



ROUTLEDGE
HANDBOOKS



The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Language Teaching

Edited by Chris Shei, Monica E. McLellan Zikpi,
and Der-lin Chao

The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Language Teaching

The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Language Teaching defines Chinese language teaching in a pedagogical, historical, and contemporary context. Throughout the volume, teaching methods are discussed, including the traditional China-based approach, and Western methods such as communicative teaching and the immersion program.

The *Handbook* also presents a pedagogical model covering pronunciation, tones, characters, vocabulary, grammar, and the teaching of listening, speaking, reading, and writing. The remaining chapters explore topics of language assessment, technology-enhanced instruction, teaching materials and resources, Chinese for specific purposes, classroom implementation, social contexts of language teaching and language teaching policies, and pragmatics and culture.

Ideal for scholars and researchers of Chinese language teaching, the *Handbook* will benefit educators and teacher training programs. This is the first comprehensive volume exploring the growing area of Chinese language pedagogy.

Chris Shei was educated in Taiwan and studied at Cambridge and Edinburgh before 2000. He then worked at Swansea University from 2003 until the present. He teaches and researches in linguistics and translation studies and is particularly interested in the use of computer and web resources for linguistic research, language education and translating. He is the General Editor for three Routledge book series: Routledge Studies in Chinese Discourse Analysis, Routledge Studies in Chinese Translation and Routledge Studies in Chinese Language Teaching (with Der-lin Chao). Proposals for monographs or edited pieces are received at ccshei@gmail.com on a long-term basis.

Monica E. McLellan Zikpi is the coordinator of the Chinese Flagship Program at the University of Oregon. She attended graduate school at the same university and completed a PhD in Comparative Literature in 2014, with a dissertation on the reception history of a work attributed to the Chinese poet Qu Yuan (c. fourth–third century BCE). She has published research on the interpretation and translation of early Chinese poetry in *Early China*, *Comparative Literature Studies*, *Journal of Oriental Studies*, and *Chinese Literature: Essays, Articles, Reviews*. As coordinator of the Chinese Flagship Program, she is responsible for the day-to-day operations of a grant-funded undergraduate language program designed to help students beginning from any proficiency level to reach professional-level fluency in Mandarin. She enjoys helping students navigate the practical matters of learning Chinese, including finances, proficiency assessments, academic credit, and study abroad.

Der-lin Chao is Professor of Chinese and Head of the Chinese BA in Language, Literature, Translation and MA in the Teaching of Chinese programs at Hunter College, City University of New York. She devotes herself to language program pedagogy, design, and evaluation; development of technology and web-based instructional materials; teacher education; proficiency-based language education; and the history of Chinese language instruction. In addition, she is thoroughly invested in developing extra-collegiate Chinese educational initiatives, including K-12 Chinese curriculum development and enhancement with partner schools throughout the New York City area.

The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Language Teaching

Edited by
Chris Shei, Monica E. McLellan Zikpi,
and Der-lin Chao

First published 2020
by Routledge
2 Park Square, Milton Park, Abingdon, Oxon OX14 4RN

and by Routledge
52 Vanderbilt Avenue, New York, NY 10017

Routledge is an imprint of the Taylor & Francis Group, an informa business

© 2020 selection and editorial matter, Chris Shei, Monica E. McLellan Zikpi, and Der-lin Chao; individual chapters, the contributors

The right of Chris Shei, Monica E. McLellan Zikpi, and Der-lin Chao to be identified as the authors of the editorial material, and of the authors for their individual chapters, has been asserted in accordance with sections 77 and 78 of the Copyright, Designs and Patents Act 1988.

All rights reserved. No part of this book may be reprinted or reproduced or utilised in any form or by any electronic, mechanical, or other means, now known or hereafter invented, including photocopying and recording, or in any information storage or retrieval system, without permission in writing from the publishers.

Trademark notice: Product or corporate names may be trademarks or registered trademarks, and are used only for identification and explanation without intent to infringe.

British Library Cataloguing-in-Publication Data

A catalogue record for this book is available from the British Library

Library of Congress Cataloging-in-Publication Data

A catalog record for this book has been requested

ISBN: 978-1-138-09794-0 (hbk)

ISBN: 978-1-315-10465-2 (ebk)

Typeset in Bembo
by Apex CoVantage, LLC

Contents

<i>List of Figures</i>	<i>x</i>
<i>List of Tables</i>	<i>xiii</i>
<i>List of Contributors</i>	<i>xv</i>

Introduction: Relationships and Motivation in Chinese Language Teaching	1
<i>Monica E. McLellan Zikpi</i>	

PART I	
Overview	15

1 Teaching Chinese as a First Language in China: Review and comparison	17
<i>Weixiao Wei</i>	
2 From ‘Chinese to Foreigners’ to ‘Chinese International Education’: China’s Efforts in Promoting Its Language Worldwide	32
<i>Chris Shei</i>	
3 The Beginning of Chinese Professorship and Chinese Language Instruction in the United States: History and Implications	47
<i>Der-lin Chao</i>	
4 Teaching Chinese as a Heritage Language	64
<i>Chang Pu</i>	

PART II	
Chinese Language Pedagogy	79
5 Methods of Teaching Chinese: Evolution and Emerging Trends <i>Haidan Wang</i>	81
6 Teaching Content, Developing Language in CLIL Chinese <i>Jane Orton</i>	97
7 Creating a Task-Based Language Course in Mandarin Chinese <i>Miao-fen Tseng</i>	118
8 Developing Communicative Competence in Adult Beginner Learners of Chinese <i>Clare Wright</i>	134
PART III	
Teaching Chinese Pronunciation and Characters	149
9 Some Explicit Linguistic Knowledge for Chinese Pronunciation Teaching <i>Bei Yang</i>	151
10 Teaching Chinese Tones <i>Hang Zhang</i>	166
11 Teaching Chinese Intonation and Rhythm <i>Chunsheng Yang</i>	180
12 Teaching Chinese Pronunciation: Explanation, Expectation, and Implementation <i>Jiang Liu</i>	195
13 Recognition of Two Forms of Characters and Teaching Literary Chinese <i>Joseph R. Allen</i>	211
14 Teaching Chinese Characters: What We Know and What We Can Do <i>Bo Hu</i>	225
15 Analysis on Models of Teaching Spoken Chinese as a Foreign Language <i>Meiru Liu</i>	238

PART IV	
Teaching Chinese Words and Grammar	255
16 A Usage-Based Approach to L2 Grammar Instruction Delivered Through the PACE Model <i>Hong Li and Jing Paul</i>	257
17 Methods of Lexical Semantic Inquiry in Teaching Advanced-Level Vocabulary <i>Shiao Wei Tham</i>	272
18 Teaching Chinese Adverbs <i>Yan Li</i>	286
19 From Cognitive Linguistics to Pedagogical Grammar: On Teaching the Chinese Sentence-Final <i>le</i> <i>Liancheng Chieff</i>	299
PART V	
Materials and Curricula	319
20 Considerations in Preparing Pedagogical Materials for Adult Native English-Speaking Learners of Chinese as a Second/Foreign Language <i>Cornelius C. Kubler</i>	321
21 Intercultural Communicative Competence in CFL Language Curricula <i>Madeline K. Spring</i>	336
22 Teaching Chinese Through Authentic Audio-Visual Media Materials <i>Liling Huang and Amber Navarre</i>	358
23 Understanding Tertiary Chinese Language Learners' Needs: A Cross-Curricular Perspective <i>Hui Huang</i>	375
24 Emotion, Attitude, and Value in Primary School Chinese Textbooks <i>Bo Wang, Yuanyi Ma and Isaac N. Mwinlaaru</i>	393
25 The Assessment of Chinese L2 Proficiency <i>Paula Winke and Wenyue Melody Ma</i>	405

PART VI	
Instructional Media and Resources	423
26 Using Social Media to Teach Chinese More Effectively <i>Ke Peng</i>	425
27 Teaching Chinese Through Film: Rationale, Practice, and Future Directions <i>Yanhong Zhu</i>	447
28 Literature in Chinese Language Teaching <i>Don Starr and Yunhan Hu</i>	462
29 Multimodal Pedagogy and Chinese Visual Arts in TCFL Classrooms <i>Rugang Lu</i>	476
30 The Current Status of CALL for Chinese in the United States <i>Zheng-sheng Zhang</i>	493
31 Using Technology to Learn to Speak Chinese <i>Lijing Shi and Ursula Stickler</i>	509
32 Towards Automatic Identification of Chinese Collocation Errors <i>Zhao-Ming Gao</i>	526
33 Business Chinese Instruction: Past, Present, and Future <i>Fangyuan Yuan</i>	544
PART VII	
Teaching Context and Policy	563
34 Chinese Language Learning and Teaching in the UK <i>George X. Zhang and Linda M. Li</i>	565
35 The Impact of Australian Language Policies on Chinese Language Teaching <i>Shen Chen and Helena Hing Wa Sit</i>	581
36 Bi/Multilingual Education, Translation, and Social Mobility in Xinjiang, China <i>Saihong Li</i>	593

37	Understanding How Chinese Language Education Is Used to Promote Citizenship Education in China and Hong Kong <i>Angela Choi Fung TAM</i>	613
38	Teachers' Bicultural Awareness in Chinese Language Education <i>Guangyan Chen and Ken Springer</i>	627
39	Crossing the River While Feeling for Stones: The Education of a Chinese Language Teacher <i>Julian K. Wheatley</i>	641
	<i>Index</i>	658

Figures

1.1	A bibliography note exported from CNKI knowledge database in Refworks format	18
1.2	Visualization of keywords generated from 25,223 references with search phrase 语文教育	19
2.1	Visualization of keywords extracted from the 6,000 search results of ‘对外汉语’	36
2.2	A system of keywords representing the most researched concepts in the TCTF field in China	36
6.1	<i>Social Studies assignment</i> , Year 7 mother tongue English student at Richmond High School, Victoria, Australia	114
6.2	<i>Persuasive writing on a social theme</i> , Grade 2 mother tongue English student at Richmond West Primary School, Victoria, Australia	115
9.1	Structure of a Chinese syllable	156
9.2	Position of the tongue	162
11.1	A statement produced by a male Beijing Mandarin speaker (there are four tiers of textgrids in the figure. The first tier is the syllable/morpheme tier, the second is the prosodic word tier (PW), the third is the underlying tone category tier, e.g. T1, T2, T3, T4, and neutral tone (N), and the fourth tier is the surfaced tone tier)	183
11.2	Schematized representation of the intonation of statement (dotted line), unmarked yes-no or echo question (solid line), and ma-particle question (dashed line) in Chinese (*An echo question is a reiterative question uttered to confirm whether the questioner hears the statement correctly, or express the speaker's incredulity or surprise)	185
11.3	F0 contours of one sentence 罗燕礼拜五要买羊 as a statement (solid line) and an echo question (dotted line) produced by a female Beijing Mandarin speaker in her 30s	186
11.4	F0 contours of focus at the initial-, medial-, and final position of a sentence (cited from Xu 2011 with permission)	187
11.5	Schematic F0 contours of five prosodic phrases in a prosodic group (PG) in Mandarin Chinese (cited from Tseng et al. 2005: 289 with permission)	187
11.6	Illustration of tone target undershoot: An utterance produced by a female native speaker (adapted from Yang 2016)	188
12.1	In (a)–(c) Mandarin H (Tone 1), R (Tone 2) and F (Tone 4) in syllable 3 are preceded by four different tones and followed by H. In (d), R in syllable 3 is followed by L. Vertical lines indicate syllable boundaries. The short dashed lines depict hypothetical underlying pitch targets (plots from Xu 2005)	200

12.2	A beginning level CFL learner's pronunciation of tones in a phrase where most tones are realized as flat pitch regardless of the underlying tone	201
12.3	Pitch tracks of different tones produced by a native Mandarin speaker in (3a), three CFL learners at the beginning level in (3b), (3c), and (3d). Only learner 3 in (3d) produced Tone 1–Tone 4 coarticulation similar to the native speaker	202
12.4	A pronunciation teaching model that consists of decontextualized and contextualized practices. Certain element is recommended for specific proficiency level as indicated in the brackets	207
16.1	Comics in Activity 2	269
19.1	Representation of the prototypical meaning of sentential <i>le</i>	306
19.2	The prototypical meaning of sentential <i>le</i> in pedagogical grammar	309
19.3	An example of prototypical currently relevant state	310
19.4	No current relevance	311
19.5	Prior opposite state and currently relevant state	311
19.6	Non-prototypical change of state and currently relevant state	312
19.7	Contrary to expectation and currently relevant state	313
19.8	Topic negotiation and currently relevant state	313
21.1	The Iceberg Model (Garrett-Rucks 2016)	343
21.2	The Onion Model of culture (adapted from Hofstede, Hofstede and Minkov 2010)	343
21.3	Interaction of the 3 Ps	347
22.1	Example of sharing a selected portion of a YouTube video	367
22.2	Example of embedded interaction in a video using Kaltura	368
22.3	Bloom's taxonomy	370
22.4	Example of video annotation on classroomsalon.com	371
24.1	Frequency of the three categories of EAV	396
25.1	ACTFL's (2012) model of foreign and second-language proficiency	406
25.2	The figure shows the proficiency outcomes of Chinese language learners at Michigan State University during each of the four years of the undergraduate Chinese language program. In the second semester of each year, students were tested on speaking (OPIC), reading (RPT), and listening (LPT), with the test scores reported on the ACTFL (2012) proficiency scale	417
26.1	Apply the 5E constructivist learning cycle and theories of SLA to the unit design	430
26.2	Benefits of social media for CFL learning (post-project reflection survey)	435
26.3	Compared perception, experience, and habit between participants and non-participants	435
26.4	Challenges of using social media for CFL learning (post-project reflection survey)	436
29.1	English and Chinese pseudo words	479
29.2	Sample calligraphy for classroom teaching	486
29.3	Sample painting for classroom teaching	488
31.1	Interface of NewPepper	513
31.2	Illuminate interface	516
31.3	The extent of communicative authenticity	520
31.4	Dominance of technology at different levels of authenticity	521
31.5	The reduced visibility of the teacher in increasingly authentic learning situations	521
31.6	The interplay of technology, teacher role, and authenticity of communication	522

Figures

31.7	Tools for supporting Chinese speaking skills at different points of learning	523
32.1	The vertical syntactic structure tree of (3) extracted from the Sinica Treebank website	531
32.2	The interface of our online Chinese collocation checker	533
32.3	The output of our collocation checker	534
34.1	Candidate taking Edexcel Chinese exams 2008–2017	568
34.2	CLT in state and independent schools 2007–2016	569
34.3	CLT in different stage and forms in state and independent schools 2007–2015	570
34.4	Chinese compared to three European languages in EBacc 2013–2016	571
34.5	Universities that provide Chinese language courses	573
34.6	Student acceptances for Chinese and French Studies 2007–2016	573
34.7	Students for IWLP Chinese and other languages 1999–2017	574
36.1	Ethnicity percentage of questionnaire participants from xinjiang	597
36.2	Participants from Xinjiang in the observation and interview stage	598
36.3	Numbers of languages that participants learned at school	599
36.4	Types of bi/multilingual education at primary, secondary, and university levels	601
36.5	Participants' views on the medium of language that should be used at primary and secondary school level	603
36.6	Participants' views of the use of translation in the classroom	605
36.7	Participants' attitude towards the current bi/multilingual education provision	607
36.8	Reasons for the implementation of bi/multilingual education	608

Tables

1.1	Forty selected keywords from the top list generated by <i>CiteSpace</i> out of 25,223 references	20
1.2	High degree of resemblance between the two-character sets	27
1.3	Preservation of original component or a simplification that preserves original characteristics	27
1.4	Simplification that strengthens the link between character and meaning	28
1.5	Simplification that loses original connection between character and meaning	28
1.6	Same referent, different words	28
1.7	Same word, different referents	28
2.1	The first 50 keywords extracted by <i>CiteSpace</i> from a corpus of 10,844 bibliographic records	35
6.1	Woodstock Elementary Mandarin Goals	107
6.2	Woodstock Elementary Mandarin Goals	108
6.3	Woodstock Elementary Mandarin Goals	109
6.4	Mandarin Immersion Curriculum Framework Fifth Grade	111
8.1	Speech performance across four tasks at Time 1	144
8.2	Speech performance across four tasks at Time 2	144
8.3	Most common words across all tasks, comparing Time 1 and Time 2	145
9.1	Variations of T3	153
9.2	Initials in SC	156
9.3	Consonants in SC	157
9.4	Finals in SC	158
9.5	Tones in SC	158
9.6	Variations of the <i>Pinyin</i> ‘a’	159
9.7	Variations of the <i>Pinyin</i> ‘e’	160
9.8	Variations of the <i>Pinyin</i> ‘o’	161
9.9	Voiced(less) and (un)aspirated consonants	163
10.1	The three variant forms of Tone 3	167
11.1	Examples of the contrast between fully toned stressed syllable and neutrally atonic syllables	189
12.1	Some basic pronunciation terminology	197
12.2	Description of phonetic knowledge for L2 Chinese learners at different proficiency levels in the International Curriculum for Chinese Language Education (国际汉语教学通用课程大纲)	204
17.1	Object nominals following 侵占 and 抢占	278
17.2	效果 and 作用 with the adjectives 好 ‘good’, 大 ‘big,’ and their negations	279

Tables

17.3	A comparison of 状况 and 情况	281
17.4	The occurrence of 逐渐 and 逐步 with verbs describing externally caused or spontaneously arising change	283
19.1	Sentential <i>le</i> constructions	306
19.2	Teaching sequence and prototype	309
21.1	Binary approaches to culture	341
21.2	Explanation of Hofstede's Onion Model (adapted from Hofstede, Hofstede and Minkov 2010)	344
21.3	Byram's Intercultural Competence Model (1997) (adapted from Byram 1997)	345
21.4	Curriculum Map Unit for Mandarin Immersion, PPS	351
22.1	Examples of commonly used documentaries for CFL learning	361
22.2	Authentic video clips	364
22.3	Handout for the learning of compliment response expressions	365
22.4	Worksheet for while-viewing activity	365
22.5	Scenarios for the role-playing activities	365
23.1	Studies on Chinese language learner needs	379
23.2	Chinese programs in Australia, China, and the US	380
23.3	Chinese learners' profiles in Australia, China, and the US	381
23.4	Chinese learner needs in Australia, China, and the US	383
23.5	The most difficult Chinese language skills across contexts	388
24.1	EAVs from the perspective of self-cultivation	397
24.2	EAVs from the perspective of national spirit	398
24.3	EAVs from the perspective of interpersonal relation	401
25.1	Commercially available tests of Chinese language proficiency	411
26.1	Correlations of perception, experience, and habit	434
31.1	An overview of how technology has been used to enhance Chinese speaking skills	512
33.1	Integrating business cases into task-based frameworks	554
33.2	Framing the task on KFC's strategic changes in China	556
33.3	Framing the analysis of the KFC's strategic changes in Hong Kong	556

Contributors

Joseph R. Allen is Professor Emeritus of Chinese Literature and Cultural Studies and Founding Chair of the Department Asian Languages and Literatures, University of Minnesota. Trained in classical Chinese poetry, his work includes editing with additional translations of Arthur Waley's *Book of Songs* (1996). He has also translated and written about modern and contemporary Chinese poetry, including *Sea of Dreams: The Selected Writings of Gu Cheng* (2005). His *Taipei: City of Displacements* (2012) won the 2014 Levenson Prize in Chinese Studies, Association of Asian Studies.

Der-lin Chao is Professor and Head of the Chinese Program at Hunter College. In 2008, she founded Hunter College's Teaching of Chinese MA program. Besides teaching and presiding over the Chinese Program, she also has substantial experience acting as a principal investigator and director for federal grants, which have included Department of Education's Instructional Research Studies grant in 2001, the STARTALK grant since 2007, and the NSEP (National Security Education Program) grant since 2011. She has also made maintaining an active profile outside of her Hunter office an active priority. Dr Chao was elected President of the Chinese Language Teachers Association, USA in 2012, and is thoroughly invested in developing extra-collegiate Chinese educational initiatives, like K-12 Chinese curriculum enhancement and development strategies with partner schools throughout the New York City area. Dr Chao devotes herself to language program design and evaluation, technology-, web-based instructional materials, teacher education, pedagogy, and assessment in proficiency-based language education, and the history of Chinese language instruction.

Guangyan Chen obtained a PhD in Chinese Pedagogy from The Ohio State University in 2011. She currently works as an assistant professor at Texas Christian University. She has taught various levels of collegiate Chinese language and culture courses since 1998. Her research interests span the areas of language pedagogy, acquisition, and assessment. A common thread in her research is her emphasis on a culture-oriented pedagogical approach.

Shen Chen is currently an associate professor in the School of Education, the University of Newcastle, Australia. His research interest includes International Education, Second and Foreign Language Teaching and Intercultural Communication. He has been researching and teaching on Teaching Languages other than English, ESL/EFL, and language education.

Liancheng Chief received his PhD in Linguistics from the University at Buffalo, State University of New York. He is a lecturer of Chinese Language in the Asian Languages and Cultures

Contributors

Department at the University of California, Los Angeles. His research interests include aspect, lexical semantics, and applied cognitive linguistics.

Zhao-Ming Gao received his PhD in Language Engineering from the University of Manchester Institute of Science and Technology (UMIST) in 1998. He has been affiliated with National Taiwan University since 1999. Dr Gao has a keen interest in developing corpus-based computational tools and has published extensively on corpus linguistics, computer-assisted translation, and intelligent computer-assisted language learning. He is the co-editor of the *Routledge Handbook of Chinese Translation* published in 2018.

Bo Hu is a Chinese language instructor at the Institute for Chinese Studies, University of Oxford. She has over 15 years of Chinese language teaching experience in the Higher Education sector in the UK. She is the author of *Manual for Teaching and Learning Chinese as a Foreign Language* published in 2018 by Routledge. She has also published a number of research papers in applied linguistics journals and is the translator of several academic articles.

Yunhan Hu is Lecturer in Translation and CFL at Zhejiang International Studies University, where she teaches Chinese and English translation, interpreting, and CFL.

Hui Huang, PhD is Senior Lecturer in the School of Languages, Literatures, Cultures, and Linguistics at Monash University, Australia. Her research interests and publications cover the areas of second language acquisition and sociolinguistics, particularly the teaching of Chinese as a second/heritage language, language pedagogy, ICT in language teaching, cross-cultural communication, and Chinese immigrant identity.

Liling Huang is a lecturer at Boston University and an ACTFL Oral Proficiency Interview tester. She has taught Chinese courses at all levels, developed several content-based courses, online and blended courses. She has been giving international conference presentations and nationwide pedagogical workshops in instructional pragmatics and technology-enhanced language learning. She is the recipient of the First Prize of CLTA/Cengage Learning Award (2017) for Innovative Excellence in the Teaching of Chinese as Foreign Language, the Blackboard Exemplary Award (2017), and several digital grants. She hosts a self-paced learning website of pragmatics (Practical Chinese) and a YouTube channel (Happy Chinese).

Cornelius C. Kubler, Stanfield Professor and Founding Chair of Asian Studies at Williams College, holds an MA in Chinese Literature from National Taiwan University and a PhD in Linguistics from Cornell. From 1980–1991 he was employed at the US State Department's Foreign Service Institute, where he served as Chinese Language Training Supervisor, Director of the Taipei Field School, and Chair of Asian and African Languages. From 2014–2016 he served as American Co-director of the Johns Hopkins University-Nanjing University Center for Chinese and American Studies. He is the author of over 60 articles and 30 books on linguistics and language pedagogy.

Hong Li received her PhD in Chinese Linguistics from the University of Minnesota, Twin Cities. She is Professor of Pedagogy in the Department of Russian and East Asian Languages and Cultures and Director of the Emory College Language Center at Emory University. Her research interests include pedagogical grammar, instructional technologies, and the teaching and learning of Chinese as a second language. She has published articles and book chapters in venues

such as the *Journal of Chinese Teachers Association* and the *Modern Language Association Volumes*. Her most recent book (as the first author) was entitled *Fun with Chinese Grammar: 35 Humorous Dialogues and Comics*.

Linda M. Li is Principal Lecturer and the Subject Group Leader in Chinese, Russian, and Japanese in the Institute of Languages and Culture, Regents University London. Linda has worked for over 30 years in the fields of language teaching and cross-cultural studies in universities in China and UK. Her research interest and publications cover business Chinese, cross-cultural communication and development, language learning and teaching, language policy and practice. She is also an author of the award winning textbook *Chinese in Steps* and her most recent book is *Language Management and Its Impact – The Policies and Practices of Confucius Institute*. Full details on www.regents.ac.uk/about/who-we-are/our-staff/linda-mingfang-li/

Saihong Li is Senior Lecturer in Translation Studies at the University of Stirling, UK. Her research interests include translation and interpreting studies, corpus linguistics, lexicography, and second language learning. She supervises PhD students in translation and interpreting studies. She has published and delivered keynote lectures and presentations on these subjects in Europe, America, and Asia. Her monograph, *To Define and Inform* (2010), uses lexicographical theory to analyze the use of dictionaries by learners of English. Her most recent publication is 'A corpus-based multimodal approach to the translation of restaurant menus' in *Perspectives: Studies in Translatology* (2019).

Yan Li is Associate Professor in the department of East Asian Languages and Cultures at the University of Kansas. She holds a PhD in Second Language Acquisition and an MA and a BA in Chinese Linguistics. She has published several articles on the acquisition and instruction of Chinese adverbs. Her current research focuses on the acquisition and instruction of Chinese function words, issues surrounding articulation between secondary and postsecondary language programs, and the efficacy of learner use of online applications to learn Chinese Pinyin including tones.

Jiang Liu is Assistant Professor in the Department of Languages, Literatures, and Culture and core faculty of the Linguistics Program at the University of South Carolina in the US. He obtained his PhD in Linguistics from the University of Kansas. Previously, he served as the Associate Director of Chinese Flagship Program in the Department of Asian Languages, Literatures and Cultures at the University of Minnesota, Twin Cities. He published several articles and conference proceedings on learning L2 speech, acquisition of new speech categories, phonology, and perceptual training of Mandarin tones. Currently, he is doing research on L2 spoken word learning, perception and production of tones, use of technology in language teaching and pragmatics.

Meiru Liu is Chinese Language and Culture Professor at Portland State University responsible for curriculum design and instruction of Chinese language and culture courses. She served as Director and Lead Professor of Oregon Chinese Language Teachers Professional Development and Training Programs in 2008–2015 and Teacher Training Consultant/Trainer for American and Chinese universities and multinational corporations for the training of Chinese business culture and cross-cultural communications. In 2015–2016, she served as Director of Overseas Chinese Flagship Program of American Council for International Education. She has organized and co-organized conferences and workshops on Chinese language teaching, published over

20 books, textbooks, and numerous journal articles in the field of teaching generic and business Chinese as a foreign language, Chinese general and business culture, cross-cultural and translation studies, etc. She also served as frequent keynote, guest speaker, plenary and panel presenter at regional, national and international conferences.

Rugang Lu is Senior Teaching Fellow and Chinese Coordinator in Modern Languages and Linguistics, University of Southampton. His main research interest is in semiotic approaches to culture and language studies. He is the author of *Chinese Culture in Globalization: A Multimodal Case Study on Visual Discourse*. He has also published book chapters and research papers on Chinese culture and language studies.

Melody Wenye Ma is from Chengdu, Sichuan Province, China, and is a PhD student in the Second Language Studies Program in the College of Arts and Letters at Michigan State University. She researches Chinese SLA, as well as Chinese-language teaching and assessment methods.

Yuanyi Ma received her PhD from Hong Kong Polytechnic University. Her research interests include systemic functional linguistics, translation studies, discourse analysis, and intercultural communication. She is author of *Systemic Functional Translation Studies: Theoretical Insights and New Directions* (to be published by Equinox) and editor of *Ideas about Language and Linguistics: Interviews with Christian M.I.M. Matthiessen*. She is also contributor of *The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Discourse Analysis* and *Perspectives from Systemic Functional Linguistics*.

Isaac N. Mwinlaaru has a PhD in Linguistics, is currently a lecturer in the Department of English of the University of Cape Coast, Ghana. His research focuses on systemic functional linguistics and the synchronic and diachronic study of Niger-Congo languages. He is a contributor of *The Routledge Handbook of African Linguistics* (2018) and *Perspectives from Systemic Functional Linguistics* (Routledge, 2018).

Amber Navarre is a senior lecturer at Boston University and author of *Technology-enhanced Teaching and Learning of Chinese as a Foreign Language* (2018). She holds a PhD in Applied Linguistics and works as a language teacher and teacher trainer, specializing in second language acquisition, technology-enhanced language learning, and curriculum design. She is the lead instructor of two national StarTalk teacher training programs. She has taught Chinese at all levels and developed several content-based courses. She has won the ACTFL/Cengage Award for Excellence in Foreign Language Instruction Using Technology with IALLT (2018), the Gerald and Deanne Gitner Family Award for Innovation in Teaching with Technology (2017), and the Blackboard Exemplary Award (2017).

Jane Orton is an Honorary Fellow in the Graduate School of Education, University of Melbourne, Australia, where she was director of a national research center for Chinese language teaching from 2009–2015, and where prior to that she coordinated Modern Languages Education for 15 years. She is a Board member of the International Chinese as a Second Language Research Association. In 2019 Routledge have published Jane's book coauthored with Andrew Scrimgeour, *Teaching Chinese as a Second Language the Way of the Learner*. Her other recent publications include 'Foundations for Content Learning in Chinese: Beyond the European Base' (with Yin Zhang and Xia Cui) in Istvan Kesckes and Chaofen Sun (eds.), *Key Issues in Chinese as a Second Language Research*: 287–298. London: Routledge, 2017; and 'Chinese Language

Education: Teacher Training', in Chan Sin Wai (ed.), *The Routledge Encyclopaedia of Chinese Language and Culture*: 177–197, Abingdon, Oxon: Routledge, 2016.

Jing Paul received her PhD in Chinese Linguistics from the University of Hawaii. She is Assistant Professor of Chinese and the Director of the Asian Studies Program at Agnes Scott College. Her research primarily investigates the typological characteristics of Chinese, including standard Mandarin and a Southwestern Mandarin dialect, through the lens of motion event descriptions. Cutting across linguistics, psychology, and cognitive sciences, she also researches on iconicity in human communication and L2 learning. She has published articles and book chapters on typological characteristics of Chinese, the blocking effects in L2 learning, iconicity in human communication, and technology in L2 learning.

Ke Peng, PhD is Associate Professor in the Department of Modern Languages at Western Kentucky University. She received her doctorate in Chinese Linguistics and Second Language Acquisition from the University of Arizona. She earned her Master's degree in Foreign Language Education at Indiana University, Bloomington. Dr Peng's research interests include second language acquisition, computer-assisted language learning, assessment, literacy development, and teacher training. She teaches modern Chinese language at all levels and offers courses in Second Language Acquisition and Teaching Methods of Foreign Languages to both undergraduate and graduate pre-service teachers.

Chang Pu's PhD is in Culture, Literacy, and Language. She is an associate professor of Teacher Education at Berry College. She has published professional articles in referred journals and books in the field of teacher education, English as a second language education, heritage language education, and bilingual education.

Chris Shei was educated in Taiwan and studied at Cambridge and Edinburgh. He then worked at Swansea University from 2003 until the present. He teaches and researches in linguistics and translation studies and is particularly interested in the use of computer and web resources for linguistic research, language education, and translating. He is the General Editor for three Routledge book series: Routledge Studies in Chinese Discourse Analysis, Routledge Studies in Chinese Translation, and Routledge Studies in Chinese Language Teaching (with Der-lin Chao). Proposals for monographs or edited pieces are received at ccshei@gmail.com on a long-term basis.

Lijing Shi, PhD is Assistant Coordinator of Mandarin at London School of Economics and Political Sciences. She has published in the areas of dynamic assessment, eyetracking, online language teaching, and intercultural communicative competence.

Helena Hing Wa Sit, PhD is currently a senior lecturer in the School of Education, University of Newcastle, Australia. Her research expertise includes second language education, international education, cross-cultural studies, and teaching strategies for advanced English learners.

Madeline K. Spring, PhD is Director of the Chinese Flagship and Associate Director of the Language Flagship Technology Innovation Center at the University of Hawaii, Manoa.

Before going to UHM in 2014, Dr Spring was at Arizona State University, where she served as Director of the Chinese Language Flagship, the Chinese Flagship/ROTC Pilot Program, and the Chinese Language program. Her first experience with Flagship programs was as academic

director of the K-16 Chinese Flagship at the University of Oregon. Her research interests are divided between medieval Chinese literature (Six Dynasties to Tang prose and rhetoric) and current issues in Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language. In that area, her focus is on curricular design and implementation, content-based instruction, intercultural communicative competences, online communities, dual-language immersion, and other topics related to guiding students toward superior-level language proficiency. Dr Spring has played a leadership role in defining and disseminating information about Chinese Language Flagship programs both nationally and internationally. She has also developed models for collaboration among the Language Flagship, The Language Flagship Technology Innovation Center, State Departments of Education, and K-16 faculty and students.

Ken Springer obtained his PhD in Experimental Psychology from Cornell University in 1990. He was Professor of Psychology and then Education at Southern Methodist University, where he is currently Chair of the Department of Teaching and Learning. He has published widely on subjects related to cognitive development and language acquisition, and his current research interests include foreign-language pedagogy.

Don Starr is Assistant Professor of Chinese at Durham University, where he teaches Chinese language and culture.

Ursula Stickler, PhD is Senior Lecturer in the Department of Language at the Open University, UK. She has published in the areas of autonomous and technology-enhanced language learning, teacher training, and learner preparation for online language learning.

Angela Choi Fung Tam has been actively engaged in research projects focused on Chinese language education, medium of instruction and policy, school-based curriculum, curriculum leadership, professional learning community, teachers' beliefs in teaching and learning, and early childhood education. Her affiliation is Hong Kong Community College, the Hong Kong Polytechnic University.

Shiao Wei Tham is Associate Professor of Chinese Linguistics in the Department of Chinese Studies at the National University of Singapore. Her research lies primarily in lexical semantics (word meaning) and its grammatical effects, with a focus on Mandarin, and her courses relate largely to the lexicon and syntax. Previously, Shiao Wei taught Chinese to foreign-language learners as Assistant Professor of Chinese at the Defense Language Institute (Monterey, CA), and at Wellesley College (Wellesley, MA), as Associate Professor of Chinese in the Department of East Asian Languages and Cultures, where she also taught linguistics and Chinese language for heritage learners.

Miao-fen Tseng is Inaugural Director of the Institute of World Languages and Professor of Chinese in the Department of East Asian Languages, Literatures, and Cultures at the University of Virginia (UVA). Built on her expertise in second language acquisition and teacher education, she has published four books and numerous peer-reviewed articles on AP Chinese, Chinese language pedagogy, teacher development, task-based language teaching, and flipped and online language teaching. She received the Albert Nelson Marquis Who's Who Lifetime Achievement Award in 2019, the Jefferson Trust Award in 2018, the Helen Warriner-Burke FLAVA Distinguished Service Award in 2016, the Jiede Empirical Research Grant in 2005, and the CLTA Ron Walton Presentation Award in 1998, among other grants from UVA.

Since 2008, she has received a federal grant every year to develop and direct the STARTALK Chinese Language Teacher/Student Academy. Numerous K–16 Chinese language teachers who received her training have become competent and influential instructors and leaders in the global Chinese language teaching community. She founded the UVA Chinese Outreach Program and served as Director of the UVA in Shanghai Study Abroad Program and as Acting Director of the Chinese Language Program at UVA and the University of Illinois at Urbana-Champaign.

Bo Wang received his PhD in Linguistics from Hong Kong Polytechnic University. He is Associate Research Fellow from the School of International Studies, Sun Yat-sen University, China. His research interests include systemic functional linguistics, translation studies, discourse analysis, and language typology. He is the author of *Systemic Functional Translation Studies: Theoretical Insights and New Directions* (to be published by Equinox) and the editor of *Ideas about Language and Linguistics: Interviews with Christian M.I.M. Matthiessen* (to be published by Springer). He is also a contributor to *The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Discourse Analysis* and *Perspectives from Systemic Functional Linguistics*.

Haidan Wang is Associate Professor of Chinese Language and Linguistics at the University of Hawai'i at Mānoa. Her research covers teaching Chinese as a second language, focusing on program design, curriculum development, pedagogy, technology-assisted instruction, as well as language proficiency assessment. She is also interested in pragmatics and cognitive linguistics research and their applications to Chinese language teaching. Her publications have appeared in journals such as *Chinese as a Second Language*, *Language Teaching and Technology*, *Journal of Teaching in International Business*, among others, and as chapters in books published by Routledge, The Modern Language Association of America, and Springer.

Weixiao Wei obtained her MA in Foreign Languages and Literatures from Taiyuan University of Technology in 2010. She currently works as a lecturer at Taiyuan University of Technology in China. Her research interests include discourse analysis, Chinese language teaching, and translation studies. She was the first author of 'Chinese Translation in the Twenty First Century' published in the *Routledge Handbook of Chinese Applied Linguistics*. She also wrote a chapter entitled 'Critical Analysis of Chinese Discourse' in the *Routledge Handbook of Chinese Discourse Analysis*.

Julian K. Wheatley received his PhD in Linguistics from U.C. Berkeley and went on to manage and teach in Chinese language programs at Cornell University (1985–1986 and 1987–97) and at MIT (1997–2006). Since leaving MIT, he has had brief stints at Nanyang Technological University in Singapore (teaching Chinese language pedagogy), at the Duke Summer in China Program (as Program Director), at the Hong Kong Institute of Education (teaching Chinese language pedagogy again) and at Tulane University (teaching Chinese). He is author or coauthor of three Chinese language textbooks and has conducted research on Tibeto-Burman languages, particularly Burmese and its predecessor in central Burma (preserved only in inscriptions), Pyu.

Paula Winke, also known as 闻博, is Associate Professor in the Department of Linguistics, Germanic, East Asian, and African Languages at Michigan State University, where she teaches language assessment and language teaching methods. She is a former Peace Corps Volunteer to China, where she taught English at Leshan Normal University (乐山师范学院). She is co-editor of the journal *Language Testing*.

Clare Wright is a lecturer in Linguistics and Language Teaching in the School of Languages, Cultures and Societies at the University of Leeds, with over 20 years of language teaching and research experience. She gained MAs from the universities of Cambridge and Newcastle (UK) and a PhD in SLA and working memory from Newcastle University. Clare's research investigates the interfaces between linguistic, cognitive, and pedagogic factors in second language acquisition, with particular focus on teaching and learning Chinese as a second language.

Bei Yang obtained her PhD in Second Language Acquisition at the University of Iowa, and her PhD in Modern Chinese Dialects at Fudan University. She is presently a faculty member at Sun Yat-sen University, authoring two books and more than 20 articles in journals and edited volumes. Her book *Perception and Production of Mandarin Tones by Native Speakers and L2 Learners* was published by Springer. In addition to experimental phonetics and sound patterns of Chinese, her current research interests are speech perception and production, and L2 fluency development in different contexts.

Chunsheng Yang is Associate Professor of Chinese and Applied Linguistics at the University of Connecticut. He is the author of *The Acquisition of L2 Mandarin Prosody: From Experimental Studies to Pedagogical Practice* (John Benjamins, 2016). His research interests include the acquisition of L2 prosody, computer-assisted language teaching (CALL), and applied linguistics and Chinese linguistics in general. He has published widely on the acquisition of Mandarin Chinese tones, stress, intonation, and CALL, in such journals as *International Journal of Applied Linguistics*, *Chinese as a Second Language*, *Language Learning and Technology*, *Chinese as a Second Language Research*, and *Computer-assistant Language Learning*, etc.

Fangyuan Yuan is Professor of Chinese at the Languages and Cultures Department of the United State Naval Academy. Her research interests include task-based language teaching, business language teaching, Chinese second language acquisition, and language teacher education. She has published or co-published two monographs, one edited volume, three textbooks, and a number of journal articles and book chapters. She has been invited to conduct teacher training workshops and present research as a conference planetary speaker. She has served as the Vice President (2018–2019), Annual Conference Chair (2019), and President (2019–2020) of the Chinese Language Teachers Association–USA.

George X. Zhang, PhD is Professor of Chinese and Director of the Centre for Modern Languages at Richmond, the American International University in London. He was previously Director of SOAS Language Centre, University of London and Director of London Confucius Institute. He is Honorary Fellow of the Chartered Institute of Linguists and Vice-President of the European Association of Chinese Teaching (EACT). He has researched and published on language policy, language learning and teaching, language standards, teacher training and teaching material development, and is an author of a number of books, including the Chinese textbook *Chinese in Steps* series, which won the Outstanding International Chinese Teaching Materials Award in 2010.

Hang Zhang is Associate Professor of Chinese Language and Linguistics at the George Washington University. Her research focuses on second language phonology, tone acquisition, and language pedagogy. She has published widely in academic journals such as *Second Language Research*, *Chinese as a Second Language*, and *International Journal of Applied Linguistics*. She also

published an academic book *Second Language Acquisition of Mandarin Chinese Tones: Beyond First-Language Transfer* by Brill in 2018.

Zheng-sheng Zhang is Professor of Chinese at San Diego State University. In addition to an interest in using technology for language pedagogy, his research focus in recent years has been the corpus study of stylistic variation in written Chinese. His book on the subject *Dimensions of Variation in Written Chinese* was published in 2017 by Routledge. From 2008 to 2016, he was Editor-in-Chief of the *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association, USA*.

Yanhong Zhu is Associate Professor in the Department of East Asian Languages and Literatures at Washington and Lee University. Her research interests include Chinese language pedagogy, literary and film theory, modern Chinese literature, and contemporary Chinese cinema. She is currently working on a book manuscript on the poetics of temporality in Chinese fiction and poetry in the 1940s. Her research has appeared and is forthcoming in a number of journals and edited volumes, including *Chinese Literature Today*, *Journal of Chinese Cinemas*, *Journal of East Asian Popular Culture*, *Journal of East Asian Humanities*, *American Quarterly*, *ECCE*, *Discourse*, and *Chinese Poetic Modernisms*.



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Introduction

Relationships and Motivation in Chinese Language Teaching

Monica E. McLellan Zikpi

I would like to introduce this book with some reflections on the importance of real-world relationships in Chinese Language Teaching, based on my own path of learning Chinese and my observation of students and teachers of Chinese whom I personally am fortunate to know. As the coordinator of the Chinese Flagship Program at the University of Oregon, I work closely with four colleagues who are full-time teachers of Chinese, covering absolute beginner to advanced levels of instruction, as well as teachers of Chinese literature, culture, and linguistics. I also get to know the students in the Chinese Flagship Program and some of the students taking Chinese classes who are not in Flagship. From this perspective I would like to emphasize the foundational and motivational importance of personal relationships in Chinese language learning. I would also like to use this space to draw attention to the fact that most of the students learning Chinese at the college level are not studying in order to become professional scholars of Chinese, which has implications for the role and status of Chinese language teachers within the institution. The chapters of this volume provide the most up-to-date research on teaching and learning. Beyond providing specific methods, strategies, and contextual wisdom, I hope that these chapters will also inspire teachers to engage on an empathetic personal level and to help their students build significant relationships with other people through communication in Chinese. I also hope that the high quality of the research collected here will bring greater recognition to the scholarly significance of Chinese Language Teaching (CLT) and advocate for greater investment in Chinese language teachers' professional development, compensation, job security, and institutional status.

I will begin with my own narrative. I started learning Chinese at New York University in 2003. The desire to learn Chinese, however, was established much earlier. My paternal grandparents, of Scottish and German ancestry, had a large book of Chinese landscape paintings in their house that fascinated me as a small child. I would become fully absorbed in the paintings and even imagine I could speak Chinese. My family consisted of English-only speakers, and my early schools did not offer language instruction at all. I did not start learning a second language until high school. My high school, a public school in Flagstaff, Arizona, offered Navajo, Spanish, and French language classes. (I did not realize at the time how rare it was that my school offered classes in an indigenous language, and now regret not taking the opportunity to learn Navajo.) I chose French. My younger sister had participated in a short exchange with a French family,

so I felt some personal proximity to French. It was my first second-language teacher, Mr Sidy, who persuaded me that learning language was a worthy pursuit. I imagine his job was rather trying. He was faced with a room full of angst-filled American teenagers who had absorbed the peculiar American cultural notions that foreign languages are inferior, unpronounceable codes for English and that intellectual learning in general is uncool. He did not emphasize the intrinsic value of the French language as a unique way of thinking and communicating. Instead he told us stories about his time in Côte d'Ivoire, where he had been a Peace Corp volunteer, and his interactions with the French-speaking people he met there. He told these stories mostly in English with some French mixed in, due to our low levels of proficiency and commitment—I doubt any of the authors of the chapters I am introducing would recommend such a pedagogy. But ultimately Mr Sidy is one of the few teachers I remember from that time of my life, and I remember him because he tried so hard to pass on his genuine love for other people and culture as understood in the medium of their own language.

At New York University I took French and Spanish classes, but ended up finding many Chinese-American friends. In particular I remember one of my first college friends, a young woman from Queens who taught me the immeasurable joy of going out for dim sum (點心, Cantonese-style morning tea or brunch, also known as *yum cha* 飲茶); a work supervisor and mentor who was an artist and spent half of his time in Beijing and the other half in New York; and a fellow work-study colleague assigned to the basement of Bobst Library, whose novel draft I discovered in a drawer of the reserves desk (his name is Tao Lin and he is now a professional writer; years later I came across a volume of his poetry in a bookstore in the San Francisco airport). Impressed by the life experiences of these and other friends, I decided to add Chinese in my senior year. My true motivation for learning Chinese was the encouragement of these friends, who assured me that I was capable of learning Chinese and who demonstrated that the reward would be a greater connection to their diverse and culturally rich community. But I also had a more practical and selfish justification: as a journalism major with an interest in sports and environmental issues, learning Chinese seemed a smart career move. China appeared to be opening up and it was going to host the 2008 Olympics. Of course, one year of Chinese classes with the adorable Zhang laoshi, who gave me my Chinese name, was not enough to get me anywhere close to being able to interview Chinese citizens about their views on pollution and economic development. A housemate in my Brooklyn apartment suggested I take an English teaching job in China, and provided some assistance based on his own experience as a certified ESL teacher. So shortly after graduation, that is what I did.

While living in China from 2005 to 2007, I found that there were two kinds of 'expats': the ones that put in an effort to reach communicative Chinese fluency and loved China with all its difficulty and complexity, and the ones who learned little beyond how to say please and thank you in restaurants with picture-menus and loved to complain about China. I found that the former tended to have a much better experience and were much more likely to have real friends in the local community. I paid a Chinese colleague to give me Chinese lessons and attended a short Chinese course for foreigners during the summer holiday. I noticed that the walls of the kindergarten where I worked had Tang dynasty poems displayed on the walls, and suggested to my tutor that we study poetry in addition to the textbook—if the kindergarteners could do it, perhaps so could I. And so my patient and encouraging colleague/tutor became another pivotal relationship in my Chinese studies. Studying poetry put me back in touch with that curious feeling I had looking at the landscape paintings at my grandparents' house. It was a lucky coincidence (or perhaps it was destiny 緣分) that at a Chinese teaching institute over the summer I was assigned a private lesson with a young man who just happened to have recently completed his Master's degree in Aesthetics 美学; he was only too happy to dedicate our lesson

time to sharing his effusive passion for the poetry of Li Yu 李煜. I put journalism behind me and decided to attend graduate school. Because I had so little formal Chinese training, I applied for Comparative Literature programs rather than Chinese programs, but studying Chinese aesthetics was still my ultimate goal. I returned to the USA and started graduate school in the fall of 2007. I had to work very hard to keep up in the Chinese literature graduate classes, and for the sake of my studies focused on classical and literary Chinese to the neglect of modern Mandarin. However, in graduate school I was fortunate to receive a Fulbright grant to do dissertation research on Qu Yuan 屈原 and the *Chuci* 楚辞 for a year in Changsha, which improved my oral proficiency somewhat. I am grateful to my neighbors and classmates in Hunan for inviting me into their lives and homes, which gave me great inspiration to continue pushing my clumsy communication skills to higher levels.

And so, with little formal Chinese language training, I eventually found myself as the program coordinator of the Chinese Flagship Program at the University of Oregon, my alma mater. Although I am not a teacher, a significant part of my job is forming supportive relationships with the students to facilitate and encourage their Chinese study. I have many opportunities to observe their learning progress and to talk to them about the challenges and opportunities they encounter on the way to the program goal: superior-level Chinese proficiency on the ACTFL scale and careers as ‘global professionals’ as stated in the slogan of The Language Flagship. Working for this program has also made me acutely aware of what my own Chinese-learning lacked. These students reach much higher levels of proficiency than I, and some of them do so in a much shorter time, because they are participating in a well-designed program that is informed by the kind of research that is presented in this book. Their teachers are well-trained experts; their materials and lessons are part of a comprehensive, integrated curriculum; they receive constant feedback and correction to prevent mistakes from becoming habitual. Clearly, the personal relevance of Chinese communication is only one side of learning Chinese. But I will focus a bit more on it here because the other sides are so thoroughly covered in the body of this book.

The important role of relationships in motivating Chinese learners became especially clear to me at one particular event that I organized as coordinator of the Flagship program. In February of 2018 a group of high school students from the Portland Public Schools Chinese dual-language program (our Flagship partner program) traveled by bus to the University of Oregon in Eugene, a two-hour drive, to learn about the Chinese Flagship Program. As part of the day’s events, the high school students had the opportunity to ask questions to a panel of current university students. They asked the various pressing questions of their moment in life, such as ‘Should I do an IB (international baccalaureate) program?’ and ‘Which AP (advanced placement) tests should I take?’ and the university students dispensed wisdom from their more experienced position. The message of the discussion that most impressed me was the repeated praise of one particular Chinese teacher, Liao laoshi (Marie Meyer) of Lincoln High School. The college students who had taken her classes in high school praised her rigor, high standards, and the heavy workload she had demanded of her students, particularly in writing, to the effect that the high school students shouldn’t complain about the hard work now because they would appreciate the payoff later. In contrast, some of the other college students expressed regret about high school teachers who were known for going easy on their students. This was of course a rather unusual group: university students committed to a challenging program of domestic coursework and study abroad to reach superior-level proficiency by graduation, and high school students in one of the few K-12 Mandarin dual-language programs in the country, many of whom were heritage speakers or had been learning Chinese since kindergarten. At the same time, I believe their sentiment is widely shared among Chinese learners who continue beyond the novice level. Most people who are old enough to understand the challenge of learning a second language do

not choose to learn Chinese unless they truly desire a challenge. To not meet learners with an adequate challenge is to dismiss their potential. And it is a fact that we have had an extraordinary success rate of students from Liao laoshi's classroom; her students are more likely to join and complete the university Flagship program than students from other schools in the Portland dual-language system. We also have had an unusually high rate of students joining and completing the program coming out of Ashland High School over the past few years. These students did not have the opportunity to study Chinese before high school, but were still able to reach superior-level proficiency by the time they graduated from college, and they are unanimous in their praise of their Chinese teacher, Guo laoshi (Jen Guo). The number of individual students may be small, but the commitment and achievements of those students is inspiring, and it is clearly due in no small part to the relationships they formed with their dedicated teachers.

This speaks to the immense importance of teacher competence and appropriately challenging pedagogy at all levels of instruction. Teacher training cannot be over-valued. But it is also about the relationship in which that competence and pedagogy are practiced. The teacher must care deeply about each student's progress and the collective endeavor of classroom instruction to be able to gain the students' trust and their self-confidence to meet the challenge. To be honest, I do not remember any of my college Spanish teachers' names (perhaps that contributed on some level to my switch to Chinese), but Liao and Guo laoshis' students remember them clearly and speak of them fondly.

There is also the matter of the student's motivation for beginning and continuing to learn Chinese, besides the efforts of their teachers. We have three kinds of students in the Chinese Flagship Program: heritage speakers who learned some dialect of Chinese from their families and may or may not have studied Mandarin in school as a primary or secondary language; immersion learners who went through the Portland Public Schools K-12 program; and students who started learning Chinese as a second language in high school or college. We also currently have one student who is not ethnically Chinese but grew up in China and attended an international school there until entering the Flagship program; her entering proficiency was almost as high as the immersion program students.

Heritage speakers are motivated by the most personal connection to the Chinese language: their own identity. Many of the heritage learners who take classes at the University of Oregon grew up in households where their parents and/or grandparents spoke Cantonese or another dialect of Chinese. They may have immigrated to the United States as children or have been born here. Some of these students take Chinese in college simply in order to fulfill a second-language requirement. These students may think that Chinese, for them, would be the easiest language class to pass—but then they end up in a class with absolute beginners because they are illiterate, or struggling through a more advanced class even though they may have little practice with reading and writing. The challenges they face are of a different kind than learners with no previous background in Chinese. Some heritage learners take Chinese classes in order to help their immigrant families by becoming more fully bilingual and literate. And many of them aspire to connect their heritage culture to their career path and/or community service goals and make it a part of their professional identity, rather than only a facet of their personal identity. Because of the diversity of heritage learners and the unique challenges they face, not to mention their substantial portion of the enrollments in Chinese language courses, the chapters in this book that address heritage learners of Chinese are a welcome and needed contribution.

A second kind of student is the immersion or dual-language learner. These students began learning Chinese in school at a very young age, when they were too young to have made that decision on their own. Their parents have many reasons for putting them in a dual-language program: the academic and socio-emotional benefits that extend beyond second language

proficiency, cultural exposure to broaden their minds, continuation of a family connection to Chinese ethnicity or culture, future career access to the global economic and political force that is China, and so on. If these students stay in the program until graduating from the 12th grade, the Portland Public Schools dual-language curriculum is designed to get them up to advanced proficiency. Many of them do not continue studying Chinese after graduating high school, perhaps already satisfied with their proficiency and/or ready to move on to other things that were not chosen for them by their parents. Those who do continue studying Chinese at university level may be motivated by the knowledge of how much effort they have already put in, whether or not that was by choice, and by special opportunities that the Flagship program offers including scholarship support. They may also be motivated by outstanding teachers and other connections to speakers of the target language. For example, teachers, administrators, and former students have noted the strongly motivating effect of spending time in China in middle or high school, especially if the trip involves a home stay with a Chinese family.

Finally, some Flagship students have not grown up in a Chinese-speaking family and did not start studying Chinese in a dual-language school at a young age. These students begin learning Chinese when they choose a language in high school (if it is offered at their school, which is not often the case) or in college. These students are often motivated by love of a challenge, interest in a different culture, desire to spend time abroad, and often by a strong interest in global politics, economics, and/or social and environmental issues. At the University of Oregon they have access to hundreds of native-speaking Chinese international students and to student organizations such as the International Student Association, the Taiwanese Student Association, the Wushu club, HuaFeng Magazine, Project Pengyou, and so on. Many of the highest-achieving Flagship students are involved in one or another of these organizations or have Chinese coworkers in student employment, and find in them a source of motivation. One of the Flagship students shared the following advice with the Chinese class at his former high school in the small town of Sisters, Oregon: 'In the classroom, your Chinese learning is like this [he drew low-angle upward line]; out of the classroom, it is like this [he drew a very steep upward line]'. He then fluently switched into Chinese and made the same statement, which impressed his high school siblings 师弟妹 very much.

A common factor that motivates all three kinds of students, above and beyond their other formative or future connections to Chinese language and culture, is an awareness of China's importance in the globalizing world. This is also often the explicit motivation for funding Chinese programs, as noted in Der-lin Chao's chapter in this book. The United States government may be taking a more adversarial stance toward China recently, but most students who start learning Chinese are able to draw on personal relationships that do not fit the national narrative and that provide authentic human connection to the world of Chinese language and culture. My students want to learn Chinese for all kinds of reasons, most of which are, at least to my mind, completely admirable and rather above simplistic ideas about America versus China. They want an intellectual challenge that promises travel opportunities; they want to open their minds to other ways of being and thinking; they want to get a competitive edge in the global marketplace; many of them want to explore their own identities as members of Chinese immigrant families or as childhood adoptees from China. Whatever the case may be, they are eager to be challenged, encouraged, and supported in learning Chinese.

I would also like to note here that most of these students are not studying Chinese in order to become professors of Chinese literature. The current situation in which language teachers at the university level receive lower pay, tenuous job security, and less support for research and continuing education than tenure-track professors of linguistics and culture, and in which humanities teachers in general receive lower compensation than science, technology, and business teachers,

is out of sync with this reality. Professional language teachers deserve to be elevated within the institution beyond the role of merely preparatory instructors, because the fact is that for the vast majority of the students in their classes, language proficiency itself is the learning goal, to be applied directly to a career path and not to further study of literature or linguistics. The excellent research in this book demonstrates that language teaching is not a mere precursor to more profound intellectual endeavors, but is fully a worthy endeavor in itself. I hope that this book will in its way advocate for higher institutional status and greater material investment in CLT in the US and beyond. The chapters in this book demonstrate the breadth and depth of research on Chinese teaching and learning, and advocate for greater recognition and better support for the ongoing professionalization of our Chinese language teachers.

The Contents of the Book

Part I provides a broad overview of the state of CLT as a discipline and a profession, from Chinese as a first or heritage language, to a history of Chinese professorships in the USA and an examination of changes in the way China describes and promotes Chinese as a second language. ‘Teaching Chinese as a First Language in China: Review and Comparison’ by Weixiao Wei considers research trends on first-language teaching of Chinese in China and Taiwan, and compares basic curricula with the teaching of English in the UK and the USA. Using data visualization and analysis of keywords in Chinese publications, Wei discerns the trends and theories underlying the first-language CLT research and derives implications for the way second- or foreign-language CLT developed and is currently practiced. In Chapter 2, ‘From “Chinese to Foreigners” to “Chinese International Education”: China’s Efforts in Promoting its Language Worldwide’ Chris Shei considers the changes in Chinese discourse and official policy about teaching Chinese to non-native speakers. Based on a review and keyword analysis of articles on 对外汉语 [teaching] Chinese language to foreigners’ published in Chinese journals, Shei finds a network of concepts, drawn from both ‘top-level terminology’ relating to national policy and from pragmatic terminology relating to teaching concepts and methods, which is relevant to the international CLT community. This chapter also clarifies specific areas where communication can be improved between Chinese and international research on CLT to the benefit of both. Chapter 3, ‘The Beginning of Chinese Professorship and Chinese Language Instruction in the United States: History and Implications’, by Der-lin Chao, narrates the history of the first professor of Chinese studies and the first native Chinese professor of Chinese language in the United States, respectively Samuel Wells Williams at Yale and Ko K’un-hua at Harvard. The detailed historical account is full of revealing details about the circumstances in which these professorships came about. Chao then unpacks the pedagogical implications of the history, and we find that the earliest teachers of Chinese in the USA were already concerned with many of the same important questions that are more deeply explored elsewhere in this book, such as the best way to teach the essentially different aspects of the Chinese language to native English speakers, especially the tones, and teacher training. The insights of the early Chinese teachers offer valuable direction for Chinese teachers today. In Chapter 4, ‘Teaching Chinese as a Heritage Language’, Chang Pu provides a broad and detailed overview of the state of Chinese teaching for heritage learners in the United States, Canada, and the UK. In defining ‘heritage learner’, this chapter demonstrates the great diversity of prior experiences that students bring when they come into formal Chinese learning. It provides an overview of teaching methods and materials at community-based schools, K-12 schools, and postsecondary schools, finding definite need for the development of more tailored materials and methods for this important and growing demographic of Chinese learners.

Part II: Chinese Language Pedagogy covers teaching methods, presenting overarching themes of past and present pedagogy with implications for future practice. ‘Methods of Teaching Chinese: Evolution and Emerging Trends’ by Haidan Wang reviews past and current trends in CLT methods in terms of ‘approaches, designs, and procedures’, and proposes key principles for the development of new methods. It narrates the history of both the more general field of foreign-language education, which provides theoretical frameworks for teaching methods, as well as the specific history of Chinese language teaching institutions in the United States and China, which clarifies the specific contexts in which language teaching has occurred. The interaction between theoretical trends and contextual factors is explored in detail, revealing great possibility for future developments. ‘Teaching Content, Developing Language in CLIL Chinese’ by Jane Orton offers a definition and discussion of the specific benefits of the Content and Language Integrated Learning model (an immersion model) for Chinese learning. This chapter presents the various challenges of starting an elementary immersion program, providing guidelines for creating curriculum and materials down to the level of daily lesson planning, and concludes with examples of a course plan and learning outcomes. Orton also systematically addresses the concerns of parents who may be skeptical of or challenged by putting their children in a Chinese CLIL program, which may provide useful talking points for immersion educators. Chapter 7, ‘Creating a Task-Based Language Course in Mandarin Chinese’ by Miao-fen Tseng, considers task-based language teaching to be the most up-to-date development of communicative methodology. This summary includes theory, definition, styles of implementation, categorization of learning tasks, course design (for both online and face-to-face classes), practice, and suggestions for teacher training. In conclusion it notes that more research is needed on the actual outcomes of task-based and task-supported curricula. Chapter 8, ‘Developing Communicative Competence in Adult Beginner Learners of Chinese’ by Clare Wright, provides another history of teaching Chinese as a foreign language, this time in terms of institutionalization of methods and pedagogical development. Wright assesses communicative, form-focused, and task-based pedagogies as expressions of the unresolved methodological debate about ‘explicit practice vs implicit exposure’, and ultimately suggests there are many challenges to gaining ‘creative’ mastery of self-expression in Chinese as a foreign language regardless of the theoretical model underlying the pedagogy. Including two case studies of learner proficiency development, this chapter advocates for a varied post-methods approach.

Part III offers perspectives on teaching two of the most distinctive and challenging aspects of Chinese language for many language learners of Chinese as a foreign language: pronunciation and characters. Chapter 9, ‘Some Explicit Linguistic Knowledge for Chinese Pronunciation Teaching’ by Bei Yang discusses the issue of how to diagnose and prevent pronunciation errors, especially given the trend of communicative pedagogy toward minimizing the explicit instruction of linguistic knowledge. Yang’s contribution focuses on the gap between learners’ perception of sounds and production of sounds, especially tones. Arguing that misleading teaching standards regarding tones, especially the third tone, contribute to students’ difficulties, this chapter offers a detailed explanation of the pinyin Romanization scheme and of how pinyin relates to actual pronunciation, with comparison and contrast to English sounds. This chapter is a resource for teachers to understand pronunciation with much greater precision. Tones are certainly one of the most essential and perennially challenging aspects of CLT, so the discussion continues from another perspective in the next chapter. ‘Teaching Chinese Tones’ by Hang Zhang provides a detailed description of the tones and reviews the research on second-language acquisition of tones with emphasis on the particular challenges of third tone accuracy. This chapter argues that the widespread method of teaching of tones has generally been inadequate and perhaps even detrimental to learners’ production of the full complexity of the tonal system, and suggests specific pedagogical remedies to address the major issues.

The matter of pronunciation is expended beyond the syllable in ‘Teaching Chinese Intonation and Rhythm’ by Chunsheng Yang and ‘Teaching Chinese Pronunciation: Explanation, Expectation, and Implementation’ by Jiang Liu. These chapters address the matter of other acoustic complexities in Chinese that intersect the tonal system. Given the great significance of intonation and rhythm to communicative competence, Yang finds a relative dearth of existing research and an urgent need for further study and pedagogical development. The chapter also offers immediately applicable recommended practices and activities. Liu’s contribution focuses on segments and prosody across the phrase and sentence level, using pitch tracks to illustrate pronunciation errors. This chapter offers recommended strategies for teaching pronunciation with the purpose of preventing common errors and meeting standards-based outcomes, and concludes with a proposed teaching model for pronunciation. Bei Yang, Hang Zhang, Chunsheng Yang, and Jiang Liu all urge teachers to specifically cultivate the learners’ ability to perceive subtle distinctions of sound in order to produce the necessary distinctions more accurately themselves.

Chapters 13 and 14 turn from sound to script. ‘Recognition of Two Forms of Characters and Teaching Literary Chinese’ by Joseph R. Allen demonstrates the need for students of Chinese to learn both full-form or traditional Chinese script as well as simplified script, and to have some proficiency in literary Chinese 文言文. The chapter then reviews the approaches and materials available for teaching literary Chinese, evaluating the pros and cons of each to facilitate textbook selection according to an individual teacher’s needs. ‘Teaching Chinese Characters: What We Know and What We Can Do’ by Bo Hu provides an overview of the Chinese writing system and the state of the field of teaching Chinese script, identifying approaches and strategies for teachers. This chapter includes some original and novel teaching methods that may be useful for teachers in the form proposed or may further inspire them to be more creative in their own teaching of Chinese writing.

Part III concludes with Chapter 15, ‘An Analysis on Models of Teaching Spoken Chinese as a Foreign Language’ by Meiru Liu. This chapter discerns different approaches to teaching speaking skills and proposes best practices based on the author’s analysis and experience, with the goal of incorporating more speaking into the classroom and developmentally increasing students’ communicative competence.

Part IV: Teaching Chinese Words and Grammar takes up various specific features of vocabulary and usage in Chinese language teaching. Chapter 16, ‘A Usage-Based Approach to L2 Chinese Grammar Instruction Delivered Through the PACE Model’ by Hong Li and Jing Paul considers the question of prioritizing grammar (or form) vs. meaning in language instruction. After reviewing the theoretical and pedagogical history of the debate, the authors propose adopting certain concepts from usage-based approaches (communicative teaching) into the PACE (presentation, attention, co-construction, and extension) model to bridge form-focused and meaning-focused approaches. The PACE model is designed to be easily transferable to any lesson, providing scaffolding for student-centered learning that connects form and meaning. The relevance of theory to practice is illustrated with a lesson plan for measure words. ‘Methods of Lexical Semantic Inquiry in Teaching Advanced Level Vocabulary’ by Shiao-Wei Tham addresses vocabulary development at the advanced level, specifically the important challenge of distinguishing between near-synonyms. It provides an overview of the nature and challenges of Chinese vocabulary, and recommends training teachers and students to differentiate between near-synonyms by drawing their attention to ‘distributional facts’ (usage, context, syntax), examples of precise usage, and a ‘gradient understanding’ of semantics, with examples from corpus analysis. Aiming to cultivate teacher awareness of the issue and provide resources to support pedagogy, Tham argues that ‘explicit appeal to certain methods of linguistics inquiry’ can help

instructors meet the challenges of advanced-level teaching such as needing to explain the subtler points of vocabulary. In Chapter 18, ‘Teaching Chinese Adverbs’, Yan Li briefly summarizes the distinctive properties of Chinese adverbs and the linguistic and pedagogical research on adverbs. Most of this chapter consists of suggestions for teaching practice, divided into different kinds of approaches that are relevant for preventing the different kinds of errors that research shows learners may make when they use adverbs. Li recommends providing explicit instruction on the use of specific adverbs at all levels of instruction, with emphasis on distribution and semantic requirements rather than syntactic explanations. Chapter 19, ‘From Cognitive Linguistics to Pedagogical Grammar: On Teaching the Chinese Sentence Final *le*’ by Liancheng Chief narrows the focus to a specific difficult word. Criticizing current descriptions of the grammar of *le* in pedagogy and textbooks, Chief uses prototype construction analysis to propose a more precise grammatical differentiation and classification of *le*, as well as a corresponding way of teaching its function and use with diagrams and illustrations.

Part V covers teaching materials and curricula. In the first chapter of this section, ‘Considerations in Preparing Pedagogical Materials for Adult Native English-Speaking Learners of Chinese as a Second/Foreign Language’, Cornelius C. Kubler discusses the overarching factors to consider when developing teaching materials for Chinese language teaching. This contribution provides clear, useful guidelines for selecting and adapting existing materials as well as for designing entirely new materials. Chapter 21, ‘Intercultural Communicative Competence in CFL Language Curricula’ by Madeline K. Spring presents the importance of cultural content and context in language teaching, and offers advice regarding how to effectively incorporate cultural learning into the language curriculum at all ages and levels. This chapter summarizes the meanings of ‘culture’ and various models of culture in research disciplines and in language teaching, discusses ‘intercultural competence’ and ‘intercultural communicative competence’, and offers proposals for a standards-based culturally rich language pedagogy. It includes an overview of various standards and existing resources that teachers may use to integrate intercultural communicative competence into their lessons and curricula. Chapter 22, ‘Teaching Chinese Through Authentic Audio-Visual Media Materials’ by Liling Huang and Amber Navarre provides both a rationale for using authentic audio-visual materials and instructions for doing so effectively, including recommended materials of various types. The three proposed models for use are ‘1) using AV materials to demonstrate language functions, 2) using AV materials as the primary or supplementary source of input, and 3) using AV materials to solicit language output’. Example lessons and implementation suggestions are provided for each model.

Chapters 23 and 24 turn our attention to the user of materials and curricula—language learners, what they desire and how they are impacted. In ‘Understanding Tertiary Chinese Language Learners’ Needs: A Cross-Curricular Perspective’, Hui Huang approaches curriculum design from the perspective of users. This chapter reviews the history of and research on needs-analysis of tertiary level Chinese learners and offers a new cross-curricular perspective. The historical overview clarifies learner needs through consideration of learning contexts—immersion contexts (embedded, as in study abroad) vs. non-immersion contexts (non-embedded, in places where Chinese is not the language of daily life)—with consideration of both heritage and foreign-language learners. The analysis of heritage and non-heritage learners in embedded and non-embedded contexts shows similarities and differences in learners’ perceived areas of highest need. Chapter 24, ‘Emotion, Attitude, and Value in Primary School Chinese Textbooks’ by Bo Wang, Yuanyi Ma, and Isaac N. Mwinlaaru, presents a discourse analysis of primary school textbooks. Drawing on representative studies applying content analysis, discourse analysis, and critical discourse analysis, the authors consider the ideologies of ‘emotion, attitude, and value’ (EAV) promoted in the official curriculum manual of the Chinese ministry of education and

its instantiation in specific textbooks. Their analysis categorizes EAV into types and subtypes, finding that the textbooks tend to emphasize patriotism, Chinese culture, and love of nature over other values.

The last chapter of this section, 'The Assessment of Chinese L2 Proficiency' by Paula Winke and Wenyue Melody Ma is an overview of major proficiency tests and a discussion of how proficiency standards can integrate and interrelate with classroom materials and curricula, such as those proposed above. This chapter provides a review of different proficiency standards and standardized tests; a critical examination of issues of validity, consistency, articulation in programs; and recommendations for program design and implementation.

Part VI: Instructional Media and Resources focuses on specific tools teachers can bring to their practice, with critical assessments of the potential and challenges of new technologies. Chapters 26 and 27 discuss the potential of certain kinds of media in the classroom, specifically WeChat and films. 'Using Social Media to Teach Chinese More Effectively' by Ke Peng focuses on the Chinese social media networking app WeChat. This chapter introduces the field of Computer Assisted Language Learning, reviews Social Media Language Learning research in the field of teaching Chinese as a foreign language, presents original research, and discusses future directions. The details on how the original study of this contribution, on using WeChat for an intermediate-level communicative task among groups of students at different institutions, was constructed, carried out, and evaluated are informative themselves, and are matched with useful findings on the study participants' perceptions of the social media environment in comparison to their actual classroom social environment. In 'Teaching Chinese Through Film: Rationale, Practice, and Future Directions', Yanhong Zhu offers compelling reasons for using films in the language classroom: the culturally rich communicative input they offer and their usefulness toward the ultimate goal of cultural competence that includes multiple perspectives. Zhu also addresses the practical challenges of using film and provides planning suggestions to make incorporating film into language classes more feasible and productive. This chapter also includes implementation and assessment criteria for novice, intermediate, and advanced levels of instruction, with recommendation of some appropriate films.

Chapter 28 is not concerned with specific media per se but rather with the incorporation of specialized language functions into the curriculum. 'Literature in Chinese Language Teaching' by Don Starr and Yunhan Hu is a history of the use of literature in Chinese language teaching, from the Grammar-translation method exemplified by James Legge and David Hawkes to the debates about using literature within the communicative language teaching method sea-change. It provides an overview of recent and current trends, mainly in the UK with reference to teaching in China and Taiwan. Drawing on a survey the authors conducted, they find support for incorporating literature into contemporary language teaching, as well as practical challenges to doing so. The authors argue that literature should remain an important component of Chinese language teaching, providing an up-to-date and nuanced theorization of the value of incorporating literature at all levels of instruction, as well as specific strategies for its incorporation into curricula.

Chapters 29–32 introduce innovative uses of media and technological resources for teaching Chinese. 'Multimodal Pedagogy and Chinese Visual Arts in TCFL Classrooms' by Rugang Lu builds a case for using Chinese painting and calligraphy in the language teaching curriculum in order to develop learners' (inter)cultural competence and proficiency as measured by the Hanban international curriculum. This contribution outlines the possibility of a 'posthumanistic multimodal pedagogy' based on four principles: '1) teaching and learning should be an open-end natural flow of communication. 2) teaching and learning should be distributed and extended.

3) teaching and learning should include other cultural modes such as visual arts, performing arts, life styles etc. 4) teaching and learning should be situated and relational'. The lesson plans included show what a pedagogy based on these principles could look like in practice. 'The Current Status of CALL for Chinese in the United States' by Zheng-Sheng Zhang takes up the topic of Computer-Assisted Language Learning. This chapter distills massive changes in the use of technology in language teaching down to a few significant and comprehensible trends. The author discusses the development of CALL, major issues in its application, and recommended strategies to improve its application, and provides key references. This chapter takes into consideration the special characteristics of Chinese which demand differentiated technological tools, as well as general resources of relevance, providing guidance for teachers to determine what technologies are most useful for their needs. 'Using Technology to Learn to Speak Chinese' by Lijing Shi and Ursula Stickler returns to the topic of speaking skills, but broadens the scope of 'speaking' to include accuracy, fluency, and communicative competence. The authors discuss common difficulties, major learning theories (behaviorism, cognitivism, socio-constructivism), and the uses of different technologies. They suggest best practices for maintaining the important role of the teacher while using learner-centered pedagogy and carefully selected technologies to develop speaking skills. 'Towards Automatic Identification of Chinese Collocation Errors' by Zhao-Ming Gao resumes the focus on writing. This chapter includes a review of publications on collocation extraction and an overview of existing tools for parsing. Gao proposes that newly developed tools in natural language processing can be fruitfully applied to language teaching: 'it presents the design of a syntax-based Chinese collocation checker (based on a Chinese dependency parser) under a data-driven language learning framework in which Chinese collocation errors can be identified and corrected via monolingual and bilingual corpus tools'. The discussion covers theoretical and practical applications of the tool as well as possible shortcomings to address with further development.

Chapter 33 offers guidance for the teaching of Chinese for a specific purpose. 'Business Chinese Instruction: Past, Present, and Future' by Fangyuan Yuan provides a history and thorough overview of courses and textbooks that specifically teach Chinese for business purposes, with recommendations for best practices. This chapter offers suggestions for 'needs-responsive instruction' that is tailored to the specific goals of learners, with a presentation of two approaches, the analytical case-study approach, and the communicative task-based approach.

Part VII: Teaching Context and Policy looks at Chinese language teaching on a macroscopic scale. Turning our attention from methods applied inside the classroom to forces that impact teaching from the outside, these chapters address political, cultural, demographic, and economic factors. Chapters 34 and 35 narrate national histories chronologically with analysis by type of school. 'Chinese Language Learning and Teaching in the UK: Present and Future' by George X. Zhang and Linda M. Li, presents a history of Chinese instruction in Britain up to the present, with a focus on the past two decades. The authors identify three boom periods: the early twentieth century, the postwar period, and the turn of the twenty-first century, which is the main focus of the chapter. Government policy and implementation is discussed, with different kinds of data representing the number of students learning Chinese in the UK at all levels and ages. The chapter concludes with discussion of areas where additional resources or development are needed, and predictions for the trajectory of CLT in the UK in the near future. 'The Impact of Australian Language Policies on Chinese Language Teaching' by Shen Chen and Helena Hing Wa Sit offers a history of the language policies of Australia, 'the first English-speaking country among Western developed countries of the world whose government has established systematic and continuing national language policies and continuing

national language policies'. The authors discuss the impact of national language policies on Chinese language teaching and learning, finding a need to increase the number and improve the training of teachers as well as to develop differentiated discipline-specific language curriculums to meet the demand that the language policies have helped produce.

Chapters 36 and 37 address language policy within China. 'Bi/Multilingual Education, Translation, and Social Mobility in Xinjiang, China' by Saihong Li includes a history of national policies regarding non-Mandarin languages in China and proposes a new policy based on original fieldwork. Using Gramsci's glottopolitical theory as guiding principle, Li evaluates and assesses the state of language education in Xinjiang to advocate for improvements that would equalize access to opportunity and be appropriate to the region's political reality. The sensitive analysis of qualitative and quantified data leads to a proposal of tolerant multilingual language policy as the best way to meet the needs of the multicultural population: 'The key to extending the language proficiency of the inhabitants of the Xinjiang region arguably lies in a greater provision of learning resources to be accessed on an individual basis, rather than the forced imposition of a centralized policy'. Angela Choi-fung Tam's contribution, 'Understanding How Chinese Language Education is Used to Promote Citizenship Education in China and Hong Kong' also discusses the relationships between language, education, identity, and power in a different context. Tam demonstrates how formal Chinese-language education has been used to inculcate national ideology. This chapter provides a contextualized history of Chinese language curricula as a tool of socialization on the mainland and in Hong Kong, with the latter narrative highlighting resistance to political indoctrination.

The last two chapters illuminate the cultural contexts of the profession of teaching Chinese. In 'Teachers' Bicultural Awareness in Chinese Language Education', Guangyan Chen and Ken Springer review the current research on the important topic of how teachers of Chinese language work with Chinese learners who are not Chinese, often in a non-Chinese cultural context. Very often in the CLT classroom, the learners do not share their teacher's cultural expectations about education and classroom dynamics. This chapter argues for an increased emphasis on bicultural awareness in teacher education and provides an analysis of the factors in the current state of the field of CLT that make such an emphasis essential and necessary. In 'Crossing the River While Feeling for Stones: The Education of a Chinese Teacher', Julian K. Wheatley offers the personal narrative of a Chinese learner's journey to becoming a Chinese teacher. This chapter also includes an illuminating discussion of Romanization systems and the issue of teaching colloquial pronunciation. Wheatley offers reflections on the experience of creating language textbooks, various roles in institutional governance, and the gradual separation and professionalization of language-teaching faculty. This latter development, it may be noted, has doubtless improved the quality of language teaching but has nevertheless been accompanied by the increasing precarity of the professional language teaching staff relative to area studies faculty.

There is much in this volume that teachers and researchers will find useful. An overarching theme that emerges from the research and advice to be found here is the careful qualification of the communicative language teaching method. Although the authors collectively do not urge a strong shift away from communicative language teaching altogether, they demonstrate that in the case of teaching Chinese there is an important role to be played by formal grammar instruction and explicit linguistics knowledge. There is also, of course, room for further research. I am hopeful that more will be written on the teaching of Chinese beyond the Anglophone West—for example, in Africa, Latin America, and Southeast Asia; and on the teaching of forms of Chinese other than Mandarin within and beyond the Sinophone countries.

This handbook provides the most up-to-date research on teaching theory and practice, as well as considerable insight into some of the contexts in which Chinese language is taught. It offers, therefore, a starting point for even more informed, responsive, and locally relevant Chinese language teaching. I hope that in sharing the excellent work being done within the field, this handbook will demonstrate the immeasurable value of CLT and increase the status of the discipline and profession.



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Part I

Overview



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Teaching Chinese as a First Language in China

Review and comparison

Weixiao Wei

Introduction

This chapter focuses on the issue of Chinese language education in mainland China, especially how Chinese is taught as a first language (L1) in primary schools. The discussion is not confined to China but is extended to Mandarin education in Taiwan as the region implements a very different system. This study is mainly based on a comprehensive survey of language education (语文教育) literature published in China, and some comparisons between US/UK-China and China-Taiwan language education curricula. Additionally, some differences between Traditional Chinese and Simplified Chinese as used in China and Taiwan respectively are also discussed with implications for future Chinese language education reforms.

In this chapter, I first carry out a scientometric analysis using *CiteSpace* (Chen 2016) to reveal the main research strands of first-language education conducted in China, especially on Mandarin teaching in primary schools. The keywords identified are, for example, ‘emotional education’ (情感教育), ‘Chinese character teaching’ (汉字教学), ‘children’s literature’ (儿童文学) and so on. Several themes of research strands are identified from the one hundred or so keywords extracted by the meta-analysis tool. Each strand is then investigated by zooming in on some representative papers published in China’s leading academic journals. The selected keywords and their elaborations in the form of literature review provide the background information necessary for understanding the current status of L1 education in China.

Having had a brief look at the research outputs of L1 education in China and the topics they usually cover, we move on to examine the curriculum of mother tongue education in China and compare it with a British one, before reviewing a US-China comparative study, so that the similarities and differences of first-language education policies can be teased out between China and the West. A subsequent section then compares the language varieties and curricular differences between China and Taiwan, hoping to reveal the heterogeneous nature of the official Chinese language (namely the differences between Traditional and Simplified Chinese and their residing cultures and respective usages) and its implication on L1 education in different Chinese regions. Towards the end of the discussion, some speculations on the implications of the findings to teaching Chinese as L2 will be offered to conclude the chapter.

First-Language Education Research in China

CNKI (China National Knowledge Infrastructure, 中国知网) is a comprehensive knowledge database that includes many academic journal resources. To generate a list of keywords from research works published in China regarding L1 education, I keyed in 语文教育 (‘language education’) as the search phrase in the topic category and the system returned 25,223 journal papers published between 1980 and August 2018. I then used the export function of the CNKI database to generate a list of reference notes consisting of the title, author, keywords, and abstract of the first 6,000 journal articles. A bibliographic note downloaded from CNKI looks like that in Figure 1.1, where the title of the paper, the keywords, and the abstract are all preserved along with the author names. These bibliography notes are then processed using *CiteSpace* (see Chen 2016) to generate a keyword visualization image as shown in Figure 1.2. In this visualization, the more frequent the keyword, the larger the triangle representing it in the reference collection.

While Figure 1.2 gives a visually appealing image of the keywords identified by *CiteSpace* from China’s L1 (first language) education research, Table 1.1, on the other hand, gives a list of 40 keywords selected and believed by the author to represent prominent concepts in the L1 research field in China. Among this group of top 40 keywords extracted from the 6,000 reference works, five strands of research can roughly be identified (see Table 1.1 for original keywords in Chinese):

- **School level:** ‘primary school Chinese’, ‘junior high school Chinese’, ‘high school Chinese’
- **Collateral aims:** ‘emotional education’, ‘quality education’, ‘aesthetic education’, ‘moral education’, ‘innovative education’, ‘ideological and political education’



Figure 1.1 A bibliography note exported from CNKI knowledge database in Refworks format

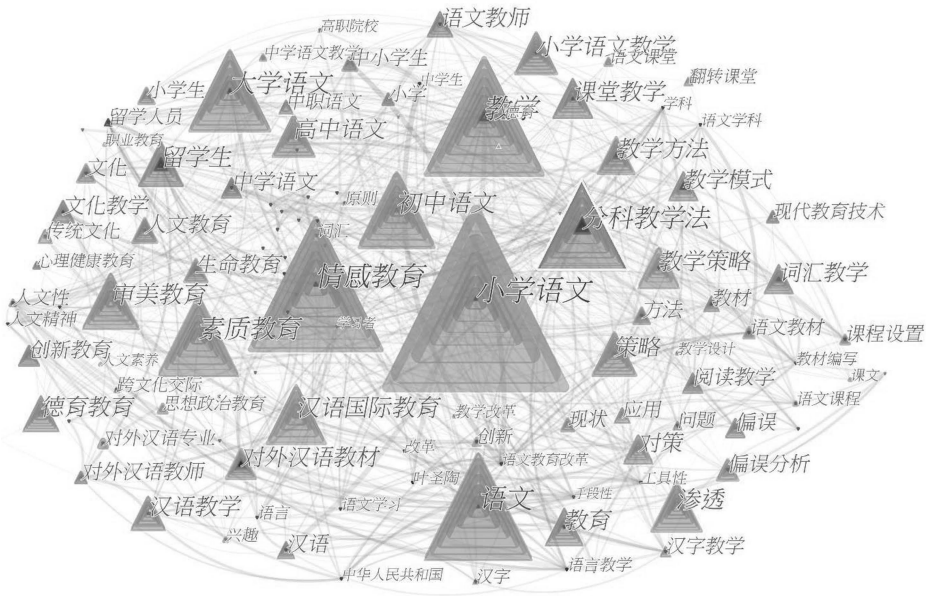


Figure 1.2 Visualization of keywords generated from 25,223 references with search phrase 语文教育

- **Components of teaching:** ‘vocabulary teaching’, ‘teaching reading’, ‘Chinese character teaching’, ‘spoken language teaching’, ‘grammar teaching’, ‘phonetic teaching’
- **Perspectives of teaching:** ‘infiltrate’, ‘classroom teaching’, ‘teaching strategy’, ‘teaching method’, ‘teaching model’, ‘culture teaching’, ‘error analysis’, ‘modern educational technology’, ‘flipped classroom’, ‘teaching reform’
- **Material and curriculum:** ‘curriculum planning’, ‘language teaching material’, ‘language curriculum standards’
- **Related concepts and names:** ‘traditional culture’, ‘children’s literature’, ‘humanity’, ‘instrumental’, ‘Ye Shengtao’

Most research papers published in China’s academic journals regarding L1 education, as downloaded from CNKI, are written by practitioners (i.e. primary schoolteachers) who are not required by the profession to have serious research background. The majority of papers are short essays one or two pages in length, often written on the basis of personal experience and expressing subjective views, somewhat similar to newspaper editorials or columns. Full-length papers like that seen in international journals are relatively rare in China’s current L1 research field. These short papers often give a list of references at the end of the work without referring to them in the main text, which is a relatively old-fashioned academic writing practice.

When speaking of mother tongue education, the academics in China are well-informed to focus more on primary school language (小学语文, 578) than on schools at higher levels, such as junior high school (初中语文, 243) and high school (高中语文, 149), as this is the time when the commonly assumed critical period of first-language acquisition falls (i.e. sometime between age 5 and puberty). This also reflects Chinese society’s recognition of the crucial importance of literacy education and its association with primary schools. The high frequency of the term

Table 1.1 Forty selected keywords from the top list generated by *CiteSpace* out of 25,223 references

<i>Frequency count</i>	<i>Keyword/phrase</i>	<i>Frequency count</i>	<i>Keyword/phrase</i>
578	小学语文 (primary school Chinese)	81	创新教育 (innovative education)
420	情感教育 (emotional education)	72	课程设置 (curriculum planning)
277	素质教育 (quality education)	71	教材 (teaching material)
243	初中语文 (junior high school Chinese)	61	汉字教学 (Chinese character teaching)
188	审美教育 (aesthetic education)	60	语文教材 (language teaching material)
173	渗透 (infiltrate)	56	人文性 (humanity)
164	课堂教学 (classroom teaching)	54	传统文化 (traditional Culture)
157	教学策略 (teaching strategy)	51	现代教育技术 (modern educational technology)
149	高中语文 (high school Chinese)	39	思想政治教育 (ideological and political education)
147	教学方法 (teaching method)	35	翻转课堂 (flipped classroom)
135	汉语教学 (Chinese teaching)	24	教学改革 (teaching reform)
135	德育教育 (moral education)	24	工具性 (instrumental)
125	词汇教学 (vocabulary teaching)	23	叶圣陶 (Yie Shengtao)
115	教学模式 (teaching model)	19	口语教学 (spoken language teaching)
110	语文教师 (language teacher)	16	语文课程标准 (language curriculum standards)
105	文化教学 (culture teaching)	15	语法教学 (grammar teaching)
99	人文教育 (humanities education)	14	文化导入 (cultural introduction)
94	生命教育 (life education)	12	语音教学 (phonetic teaching)
90	偏误分析 (error analysis)	11	任务型教学法 (task-based approach)
81	阅读教学 (teaching reading)	10	儿童文学 (children's literature)

‘primary school language’ predicts more papers and discussions on all aspects of L1 education in primary schools than those on other school levels.

From the many collateral aims explored under the rubric of language education, we can suspect that L1 education in China is not solely considered in its own right but is often conceptualized as a tool to achieve other educational aims, such as ‘emotional education’ (420),

‘quality education’ (277), ‘aesthetic education’ (188), ‘moral education’ (135), ‘ideological and political education’ (39), and so on. For a start, one may wonder about the nature of ‘emotional education’ and what it has to do with language teaching. Leng (2018) gives a possible definition:

所谓情感教育，就是指教师针对某一特定的人或物展开相应的一系列情感教育活动，从而促进学生产生新的感情。(p. 44) (So-called emotional education means for the teacher to implement a series of emotional teaching activities against a certain person or object in order to generate new emotions on the part of the students.)

The reasoning behind this approach is that there are always plenty of emotions residing in the literary material used for teaching Chinese language. The teacher should not only teach the linguistic knowledge embedded in these literary works but also stimulate and guide student emotions towards desirable outcomes such as ‘promoting the development of student physical and mental health’ (促进学生的身心健康发展) (Leng 2018), ‘enriching the emotional experience of students’ (丰富学生的情感体验), ‘inspiring students’ enthusiasm for learning’ (激发学生的学习热情), and ‘helping students to perfect their independent characters’ (帮助学生健全独立的个性) (G. Gao 2018). Liu (2018) even goes so far as to claim:

情感是语文教学的生命线，没有情感的语文课堂将会毫无生机与活力。(p. 140) (Emotion is the lifeline of language teaching. A language classroom without emotion will be lacking in energy and vitality.)

Emotional education is also often associated with love for country. For example, Liu suggested that a topic for writing such as ‘Motherland, I love you’ (祖国，我爱你) can prompt students to appreciate the magnificent rivers and mountains of the motherland and thereby cultivate children’s patriotic sentiments. In addition, the theoretical foundation for embedding collateral aims in L1 education is often traced back to wise sayings in well-known historical works. For example, Liu (2018) quotes the phrase 披文以入情 (‘understanding the author’s feelings through reading the text’) from the historical book 文心雕龙 (‘*Carving Dragon at the Core of Literature*’) to support his view that emotion in the text should be extracted to permeate the learning environment and eventually be internalized by the students. Thus, emotional education in China seems to play a pivotal role in connecting language education to patriotism and the nation’s history.

Regarding the components of teaching, the most frequently mentioned areas in Chinese as L1 research are vocabulary teaching (125), reading (81), and Chinese character teaching (61); other areas such as spoken language (19), grammar (15), and phonetics (12) are much less mentioned. Vocabulary and reading are essential tools for developing literacy for any language. What stands out in this group is the teaching of Chinese characters, which is a unique feature in Chinese literacy education due to the logographic nature of the Chinese language. Research in this area is important for Chinese language teaching (be it L1 or L2) because there is no reference point in other languages (and therefore no similar research findings to draw on). China’s academic research on literacy education (识字教育) roughly equals Chinese character teaching (汉字教学). Research normally emphasizes the importance of children learning Chinese characters and the principles and methods for teaching them. The debate whether or not young children should be taught Chinese characters is also noted, for example by Dou (2018) who observes that:

赞同者认为幼儿可以通过汉字学习来促进语言的发展，有利于阅读与他人交往；而不赞同者担心错误的汉字教学阻碍了幼儿的身心发展。(p. 125) (The endorsers think children’s development in language can be accelerated through Chinese character

learning; the oppositionists worry that misguided character teaching can hinder children's physical and mental development.)

In terms of the principles of Chinese character teaching, Jiang and Xiao (2018) propose that the first goal for teaching Chinese characters is 'correctness' (正确), and the second goal is 'orderliness' (工整) and 'beauty' (美观) and the order of the last two should not be reversed. As regards teaching methods, researchers normally suggest embedding literacy learning in daily life, using game for literacy teaching and using story and multimedia to teach Chinese characters (Y. Gao 2018; Zhang 2018; Shi 2018; Wang 2017).

Another strand of L1 research in China identified in this section is loosely defined as 'perspectives of teaching' including teaching policy, teaching philosophy, teaching methods and so on. The most frequently mentioned keyword in this category is 'infiltration' (渗透, 173) as listed in Table 1.1. The concept represented by this word links back to the 'collateral aims' discussed above, namely, using language teaching as a means of achieving other educational aims. In addition to the 'infiltration' of emotional education into language pedagogy mentioned above, Fang (2013), for example, discusses how to 'infiltrate elementary language education with easily understandable traditional culture knowledge' (在小学语文教学中渗透一些浅显易懂的传统文化知识) in order to spark learning interest, shape good character, develop artistic ability and foster patriotism and pride for country. Yang (2016), on the other hand, comments on the common topic of how to 'infiltrate' moral education into primary Chinese teaching, for example, by 'effectively digging out moral resources from teaching material' (有效挖掘教材中的德育资源) and creating versatile and attractive learning environment so that moral education can be favorably embedded in it. On a different note, Yang and Peng (2005) dwell on the issue of frustration and propose ways to embed 'frustration education' (挫折教育) in language teaching. They point out four sources of frustration for primary and secondary students: learning, socializing, emotion, and cognition. Language education, according to Yang and Peng, can help students recognize frustration and develop optimistic attitude, evaluate themselves objectively and adjust goal-oriented action, solicit multiple inputs to foster strong will power, participate in cooperative learning to ease the feeling of frustration.

Other keywords in the category are concepts and methods in L1 teaching such as 'classroom teaching' (课堂教学, 164), 'teaching strategy' (教学策略, 157), 'teaching method' (教学方法, 147), 'teaching model' (教学模式, 115) and so on. One keyword that merits special attention is 'flipped classroom' (翻转课堂, 35), which is a relatively new concept originating in the West and popularized around the millennium. In a flipped classroom students learn the content from media (e.g. video clips) prepared by teachers before students and teacher meet in classroom to discuss and answer any questions. The fact that some Chinese academics are beginning to publish on the topic shows L1 research in China not only looks back on tradition but also examines innovative ideas imported from abroad. A logical concern to start with is whether the new paradigm is suitable for the home environment. Tang (2016), for example, points out some major weaknesses of implementing flipped classroom in China: students are in the habit of relying on teachers to tell them what to do and lack self-learning initiatives or self-control in the face of other online attractions such as social media and games, teachers are not equipped with the right skills to make high quality self-learning materials, and the regular size of the class in China is simply too large to allow serious discussions to occur to the benefit of every one. Tang proposes corresponding strategies for effective implementation of flipped classroom in China:

1. developing student abilities in independent and cooperative learning,
2. developing teacher's abilities to lead the flipped class, and
3. equip the system with requisite hardware and software to run the flipped classroom.

Yet another strand of keywords identifiable from L1 research in China has to do with teaching material and curriculum. Very few papers can be found which analyze the contents of national curriculum standards for primary school Chinese. This could be due to the abstract nature of curriculum standards which is hard to tackle for a paper of less than 5,000 Chinese characters (1–2 pages) as commonly seen in China's L1 education research. Analytical review of curriculum standards also requires training in research methods (e.g. discourse analysis) which most L1 practitioners do not have. Keying in 小学语文课程标准 ('curriculum standards for primary language') in CNKI database, as a result, returns only 49 journal papers published between 2002 and 2018. Although few papers were found dedicated to the discussion of curriculum standards per se, there are quite a few papers focusing on how to translate goals and requirements stated in national curriculum into the concepts and methods for Chinese language teaching in primary schools. Gao (2017), for example, proposes some new concepts and implementation methods under the new primary Chinese curriculum standards, including

1. promoting learning interest (by holding competitions and creating learning contexts),
2. using language texts in 'scientific' (i.e. insightful, efficient) ways, and
3. using innovative teaching methods (teaching to individual differences and facilitating cooperative learning).

In the same vein, Meng (2016) suggests three ways to reform primary Chinese teaching under the new curriculum:

1. reformulating traditional teaching concepts,
2. adopting innovative teaching methods, and
3. establishing 'democratic' (i.e. interactive and learning-centered) teacher-student relationship.

As regards discussion of L1 material, Wen (2018) is an important work which explains the rationale for compiling current 'unified compiled textbook' of primary school Chinese and its key features. According to Wen, the current unified primary Chinese language textbook is compiled under four principles:

1. to establish morality and promote humanity (立德树人),
2. to be practical and 'grounded' (接地气),
3. to be innovative while not deviating from established norm (守正创新), and
4. to be close to contemporary students' 'language life' (贴近当代中小学生的 '语文生活').

That takes us to the final group of keywords identified in this section composed of miscellaneous terms having to do with L1 education in China. For example, the name 叶圣陶 (23) is frequently mentioned by authors in the field. Ye Shengtao (叶圣陶, 1894–1988) was a renowned writer and educationist, well respected in China's language teaching profession. For a start, Liang (2018) pays tribute to Ye by comparing the educational theories between John Dewey and Ye Shengtao, commenting on the largely conceptual or speculative (in Liang's word, 空疏 'vacant') nature of the former's philosophy and the richness (充实) and practical usefulness of the latter's language education theory. Xu (2003) examines the curriculum standards issued in 2001 in light of the one compiled by Ye back in 1949, tracing Ye's positive influences on the development of China's national curriculums for Chinese language education. According to Xu, the new curriculum standards 'inherited and developed Ye Shengtao's thoughts on language education' (继承和发展了叶圣陶语文教育思想) in goals for education, fundamental properties of the

subject, compilation of teaching materials and teaching methods. Last but not least, Luo (2013) offers effusive praise to a textbook compiled by Ye in 1932 (开明国语课本) saying:

一套普通的小学语文课本能有八十年以上的生命力，足以让人刮目相看。(p. 66)
(It is truly remarkable that an ordinary primary school language textbook can maintain its vitality for 80 years.)

To substantiate his claim, Luo identifies four outstanding features in Ye's textbook that represent his educational philosophy:

1. placing children at the center and as the starting point of language teaching,
2. taking social life as the standpoint of language education,
3. developing student reading and writing abilities as the endpoint of language education, and
4. emphasizing training as the focal point of language teaching.

Thus, we see there are voices inside China calling for more updated approaches for teaching primary Chinese language incorporating scientific and 'democratic' methods, student-centered approach, cooperative learning, and so on. In the meantime, we also hear voices advocating the integration of morality in language teaching and acclaiming the work of iconic figures in the history of Chinese language education. The seemingly opposite directions (new vs. old; foreign vs. domestic) are seen to converge at some focal points (e.g. student-centeredness, authentic usage, development of literacy), which serve as the nexus between modern innovative pedagogy and the traditional way of Chinese language teaching.

In this section, I have reviewed the research field of first-language education in China by extracting a collection of keywords from nearly 40 years of research, classifying the keywords into several research strands, and reviewing representative works in each strand to generate a comprehensive view of the theory advanced and the practice followed in the field. Next, I will compare between Chinese language curriculum and those of the West, and the curriculum and language differences between China and Taiwan. The reasons for making these comparisons are to put L1 teaching in China in global and regional perspectives and to help figure out the best way forward in Chinese language education.

Chinese vs. US and UK Language Curriculum

This section starts with a review of Yao (2012) which compares the national curricula for Chinese and English respectively between China and the US. Another comparison between that of the UK and China is then offered by the author of this chapter. The purposes for the comparisons are to understand the design of China's curriculum standards in first-language education against the background of the established norms of the West, and to reveal the value systems and educational philosophy maintained in China's national curriculum. An awareness of the differences between China and the West in language education policy will be helpful for setting up 'Chinese as a foreign language' curriculum standards in the rest of the world, among other things.

Yao (2012) draws comparisons between China's 2011 Primary school Chinese curriculum standards (小学语文课程标准) and the 2010 English Language Arts Standards published in the US. The four bases for comparison used by Yao are: the *concept*, the *structure*, the *goals* and the *contents* of the curricula. For each category, not surprisingly, there are some similarities and some differences between the curricula of the two countries.

In terms of the concept behind the promulgated curriculum standards, Yao found that China's language curriculum illustrates four fundamental concepts:

1. enhancement of the language ability of all students in the country,
2. identification of the characteristics of language education,
3. advocacy of independent, cooperative and discovery learning style, and
4. establishment of open and energetic language curriculum.

Apparently, points 3 and 4 are encouraging signs of advancing China's national curriculum of language to the next level of open and independent learning. The concepts behind the American curriculum standards, on the other hand, are found to be:

1. unification of standards and enhancement of educational quality,
2. emphasis of integrated language skills,
3. emphasis of basic requirements and room for manipulation,
4. promotion of students' dynamic development and individuality,
5. application of modern technology and value of evidence-based argumentation,
6. cultivation of citizens sympathy to national and cultural diversities, and
7. emphasis on both literature appreciation and practical use of language.

As can be seen, apart from dictating language education policy, the American curriculum also emphasizes student individuality and respect of cultural diversities.

Next, Yao summarizes the similarities and differences between the two language curricula in terms of their designing concepts. First, she finds both curricula reflected the new language orientations in both countries, notably the promulgation of a core set of language standards. Second, both national curricula emphasize the integrity of the standards in the sense that all language skills are interrelated. Third, both curricula emphasize the versatility and vitality of language especially its connections with daily lives. However, according to Yao, the two curriculum standards also differ in two important aspects. First, the Chinese curriculum seems to adopt a macro view (i.e. more general and abstract) and the American one is more inclined towards a micro view (more detailed and concrete). Second, as a nation which offers the same historical backgrounds to several ethnicities, China does not emphasize multiethnicity but focuses on patriotic education and the promotion of socialist ethics. Being a multi-ethnic and multicultural country, however, the US curriculum advocates respect and understanding of diversity and the promotion of democracy and inclusiveness.

As regards structural comparisons between the language curricula of China and the US, Yao (2012) noted two similar features across the board:

1. Both curricula demonstrate holistic structures and continuation across stages.
2. Both curricula contain similar components.

However, Yao also noted two structural differences. First, China's language curriculum takes a macro perspective so that the narrative of the entire curriculum is quite clear from the beginning to the end, but there is a notable lack of details. The American curriculum, on the other hand, is rich in details and the descriptions of stages unfold in an orderly and coherent fashion, very concrete and directly implementable. Second, although the majority components between the two curricula are similar, there are distinct structural features for each curriculum. For example, the Chinese curriculum contains an 'implementation suggestions' module which is absent

from the American curriculum. According to Yao, this empty void could be an intentional gap to leave room for free implementation methods on the part of the teacher, which is only possible under a well-developed curricular and course planning system (to empower the teacher to fill in the gaps). The American curriculum in turn has one component, knowledge of language, which is not present in the Chinese curriculum. This could be due to the analytical nature of the English language which makes explicit linguistic knowledge useful for learning the language.

The final basis for comparing between the two curricula in Yao (2012) is the goals and contents of the two curricula in question. The comparison is made in three aspects: reading, writing, and spoken language. In respect of reading, Yao proposes four differences between the Chinese curriculum and the English one:

1. Emotion is emphasized in China (recall our earlier discussion on ‘emotional education’ or 情感教育); reason in the US.
2. Memorization of knowledge is important to Chinese students as learning methods are to American students.
3. Multiculturalism is practiced in the US; while China is relatively closed and indifferent to diversity.
4. Language education is associated with politics and patriotism in China; while religion, humanity, and associated values are more of a concern in the US system.

In terms of the teaching of writing skills, Yao thinks China’s primary education focuses more on self-expression and interaction with others; while the US emphasizes the practical functions of writing. Finally, regarding the use of spoken language, Yao finds that the US system gives more detailed specifications for classroom discussions, requires students to clearly and convincingly express their viewpoints using evidence and argumentation effectively, and strategically use digital media and data to deliver information; while the Chinese curriculum is more general and milder on these issues. There is a clear difference in the development of independent thinking and reasoning abilities here.

All in all, according to Yao (2012), the Chinese language curriculum tends to make macro statements which are general, concise, and vague; the American system, on the other hand, is much more concrete, comprehensive, and functional. This difference in richness of curricular contents is directly reflected in the size of the documents—there are more than 200 pages to the American language arts curriculum; while the Chinese one consists of only slightly more than 20 pages.

The author of this chapter also made a comparison between China’s 2017 Compulsory Education Chinese Language Curriculum Standards (义务教育语文课程标准) and the UK’s 2014 National Curriculum. Some observations are offered below which largely echo the findings of Yao’s (2012) or are in line with the overall view established in that review.

- In terms of reading, the new Chinese curriculum explicitly states the number of characters and the number of works that should be mastered at the completion of a stage (e.g. knowing 3500 Chinese characters and having read 2.6 million words’ worth of texts and 80 pieces of ‘outstanding poetry’ 優秀詩文 at stage 4); the British curriculum generally does not specify the amount of reading required but emphasizes the critical reading skills that should be practiced, for example, ‘distinguishing between statements supported by evidence and those that are not’ and ‘making critical comparisons’, ‘using linguistic and literary terminology’ and so on.
- In terms of writing, the Chinese curriculum again specifies the number of writing expected to be done by students at each stage, for example 每学年课内习作16次左右

(doing practice writing 16 times for each academic year) at stage 2; however, as regards the required writing skills expected to be mastered, the Chinese curriculum does not have much to say. The British curriculum is again very specific in terms of the writing skills expected to be mastered and the writing activities suggested to be conducted in class, for example, ‘providing opportunities for pupils to develop and order their ideas through playing roles and improvising scenes in various settings’.

In general, the English-language curricula evidence the ‘process model’ advocated by the British educational thinker Lawrence Stenhouse (e.g. Stenhouse 1975). First-language education in both the US and the UK emphasize the development of student ability to think independently, to question and criticize, and to express opinions freely. The Chinese language curricula tend to be more conceptual and vaguer in nature. Where specific information is given, it is usually about the number of Chinese characters expected to be mastered at a certain stage, or the amount of reading and writing that need to be completed. No specific suggestions are made as to what this body of knowledge is to be used for, or what kinds of reading and writing skills are to be practiced or mastered in the process or as a result of completing the required number of tasks. When designing a Chinese language curriculum in the US or UK, it might be good to pay attention to these differences and attempt to fill in the gaps found in China’s language curriculum with comparable examples from an English curriculum.

Language and Education in China and Taiwan

As is widely known, China and Taiwan speak the same language but use different scripts (i.e. Simplified vs. Traditional Chinese). This difference is symbolic of many nuances in linguistic systems and cultural influences. The literacy educational systems are also slightly different in both sides of the Taiwan Strait. For example, Pinyin system (*bo, po, mo, fo*) is used in China to teach the pronunciation of Mandarin; whereas Zhuyin system (ㄅ, ㄆ, ㄇ, ㄈ) is used in Taiwan. The two systems are essentially the same, except that Pinyin is a romanization system, more intuitive and easier to learn; whereas children in Taiwan need to learn an extra set of symbols and establish the links between the Zhuyin symbols and the sounds they each present. As the teaching of characters is essential to a Chinese language curriculum in both Taiwan and China, it is important to recognize some basic facts of the diversity if we are to understand the implication of the differences to literacy education in various Chinese regions. Tables 1.2–1.5 show some basic types of simplification and the resulting differences between Traditional and Simplified characters.

Table 1.2 High degree of resemblance between the two-character sets

Taiwan	來	貝	骨	帶	彈	絡	兌	溫
Mainland	来	贝	骨	带	弹	络	兑	温
Pinyin	<i>lai</i>	<i>bei</i>	<i>gu</i>	<i>dai</i>	<i>tan</i>	<i>luo</i>	<i>dui</i>	<i>wen</i>

Table 1.3 Preservation of original component or a simplification that preserves original characteristics

Taiwan	樓	蟲	節	儉	豔	備	幹	寫	後	開	龜
Mainland	楼	虫	节	俭	艳	备	干	写	后	开	龟
Pinyin	<i>lou</i>	<i>Chong</i>	<i>jie</i>	<i>Jian</i>	<i>yan</i>	<i>bei</i>	<i>gan</i>	<i>xie</i>	<i>hou</i>	<i>kai</i>	<i>gui</i>

Table 1.4 Simplification that strengthens the link between character and meaning

Taiwan	體	聯	個	總	厭	幾	審	塵	面
Mainland	体	联	个	总	厌	几	审	尘	面
Pinyin	<i>ti</i>	<i>lian</i>	<i>ge</i>	<i>zong</i>	<i>yan</i>	<i>ji</i>	<i>shen</i>	<i>chen</i>	<i>mian</i>

Table 1.5 Simplification that loses original connection between character and meaning

Taiwan	聽	葉	驚	醜	書	鳳	龍	歡
Mainland	听	叶	惊	丑	书	凤	龙	欢
Pinyin	<i>ting</i>	<i>ye</i>	<i>jing</i>	<i>chou</i>	<i>shu</i>	<i>feng</i>	<i>long</i>	<i>huan</i>

Table 1.6 Same referent, different words

<i>Referent</i>	<i>Taiwan</i>	<i>Mainland</i>
software	軟體	软件
mouse	滑鼠	鼠标
internet	網路	网络
file	檔案	文件
junior high school	國中	初中

Table 1.7 Same word, different referents

<i>Taiwan</i>		<i>Mainland China</i>	
<i>characters</i>	<i>meaning</i>	<i>characters</i>	<i>meaning</i>
窩心	heart-warming	窝心	upsetting
公車	bus	公车	government car
站台	to support a candidate	站台	platform

As can be seen, the first three types of simplification as manifested in Tables 1.2, 1.3, and 1.4 are favorable processes of simplification which more or less preserve the original connections between the character set and the meanings they represent. The fourth type exemplified in Table 1.5 is a 'failed attempt' which only achieves the aim of easier writing. This is the kind of simplified characters that diverge maximally from their traditional counterparts and are not intuitively recognizable to someone educated under the Traditional Chinese system.

The differences between Mainland and Taiwan Chinese do not stop at the character level. Vocabulary is a fundamental area where the Mandarin used on both sides of the Taiwan Strait also diverges. Tables 1.6 and 1.7 illustrate two kinds of differences in word usage between Taiwan and Mainland.

The kind of confusion created by differences like those in Table 1.6 is relatively minor, since the words from both sides bear a certain degree of resemblance and the identical meaning can be worked out easily. The semantic discrepancy illustrated in Table 1.7, however, is relatively more significant, since the same words can mean different things in a different region, easily causing misunderstanding. For example, 窩心 has a positive meaning in Taiwan, used to describe someone or some act as being considerate and heart-warming. The same word printed in a different

character set (i.e. 窝心) and used in mainland China, however, can have a negative meaning, i.e. being wronged, being upset. Chinese language teachers on both sides of the strait clearly need to pay special attention to these words, drawing students' attention to the multiple representations of the same referents or the same representations that have different meanings in different Chinese regions.

In the face of the confusion caused by the phenomenon of 'one language, two systems' and the increasingly heated debates, Ye (2018) offers a compromised view which seems a workable solution for smooth communication between the two varieties of the same language. According to Ye,

我们既不能过分提倡复古·走“逆流”之路·也不可一味追求高效·一简再简·忽视文化传承。或许当下的最佳方案莫过于“识繁写简” (p. 71) (We cannot afford to revert to the classic and go down the road of 'counter current'. Conversely, we don't want to blindly pursue high efficiency and continue the simplification process on and on, ignoring the issue of cultural heritage. Perhaps the best solution now is 'recognizing the complicated and writing the simplified'.)

If Ye's proposal is viable, then a good balance between the traditional and the simplified systems could be achieved, preserving the assets of both efficiency and cultural heritage. Literacy education in both regions should also respond to the need for integration accordingly. The integration of the two systems in some ways will not only bring about better communication between both sides of the Strait, it will also consolidate various assets of the Chinese language, reduce the confusion for foreign learners, and enrich their learning experiences of the language.

As for the differences in principles of L1 education between China and Taiwan, the author of this chapter has tentatively compared the Chinese language curriculum standards between Taiwan and Mainland. The Taiwanese version examined is the Directions Governing for the 12-Year Basic Education Curricula (十二年國民基本教育課程綱要總綱) published in Taiwan in 2014, and for China's version I again used the 2017 Compulsory Education Chinese Language Curriculum Standards (义务教育语文课程标准). Overall, I found the Chinese language curriculum produced in Taiwan distinct from Mainland's 2017 curriculum in at least the following respects:

- Taiwan's language curriculum is not limited to the development of student knowledge and skills learnable from the book, but also focuses on student's lifelong development.
- In respect of reading, Taiwan's curriculum resembles the British one, emphasizing student's ability to predict and make inferences.
- Taiwan differs from mainland China and the UK in the specification of listening, where the Taiwanese curriculum asks students to be able to listen to a variety of media and evaluate the rationality of the contents.
- In oral expression, Taiwan's curriculum requires students to be able to use body language and to combine technology and information in making expressions.

Overall, I find the language curriculum of Taiwan quite innovative and energetic, representing a good combination of Chinese tradition and Western thinking. Despite the differences in some aspects of the language (notably, character representation and word usage), however, the two sides of the Taiwan Strait still share more than diverge in language curriculum standards as a result of the same language being in question.

Concluding Remarks

In this chapter, I have reviewed the current state of first-language education in China by sampling a reasonable number of representative essays based on a set of keywords extracted from the literature. The overall impression is a lack of serious research to extract meanings from the current materials and methods implemented in the field of language education in China, to build models and develop theories on the basis of those meanings, and to predict and guide ways forward in terms of curriculum design and implementation, development of teaching materials and methods, provision of teacher training and generation of classroom-based research, among other things. The curricula reviewed and compared in this chapter also exposed the weaknesses lying in current educational theory and philosophy as manifested in the design and statements of the Chinese language curricula examined, especially in terms of the development of independent and critical thinking skills through the use of language. Although the issue of Chinese as a second or foreign language (CSL/CFL) is not touched upon in this chapter, many of the points raised in the reviews and comparisons are highly implicational to the field. For example, the timing and method of introducing Chinese characters to the learner and the variables considered (e.g. age, language proficiency, affective domain) that have been extensively discussed in Chinese as L1 education can overlap with the concerns of CSL/CFL research. Also, the ways in which Chinese classic literature and historical documents entered the L1 textbooks may be worth considering when compiling CSL/CFL textbooks. In addition, Chinese as a first-language curriculum promulgated in China may offer some insights as to why Chinese is expected to be taught in such ways in China. Chinese language education in the homeland, in short, despite the obvious lag in research to draw out its relevance to global Chinese teaching and learning, still has a lot to offer pending on more serious research and discussion in the future.

Acknowledgment

This research was sponsored by a scholarship awarded to Weixiao Wei by the State Scholarship Fund through a process organized by the China Scholarship Council (CSC). File No. 201706935062.

References

English References

- Chen, C. (2016) *CiteSpace: A Practical Guide for Mapping Scientific Literature*. New York: Nova Science Publishers.
- Stenhouse, L. (1975) *An Introduction to Curriculum Research and Development*. London: Heinemann.

Chinese References

- Dou, Yan 窦燕 (2018) ‘浅论幼儿的汉字教学’ (On the teaching of Chinese characters for children). 科教文汇 (The Science Education Article Collects) 427: 125–126.
- Fang, Zhu 房殊 (2013) ‘怎样在小学语文教学中渗透传统文化’ (How to infiltrate elementary language education with traditional culture?). 佳木斯教育学院学报 (Journal of Jiamusi Education Institute) 2013(11): 277–278.
- Gao, Guoqing 高国卿 (2018) ‘小学语文教学中学生情感教育的渗透探讨’ (Investigating the infiltration of emotional education in primary school language teaching). 学周刊 (Learning Weekly) 2018(22): 111–112.

- Gao, Yanping 高艳萍 (2018) '小学语文识字教学方法分析' (An analysis of elementary Chinese literacy teaching methods). *教师教育论坛* (Teacher Education Forum) 2018(6): 90.
- Gao, Zhengju 高正菊 (2017) '新课程背景下小学语文教学策略研究' (A study of primary Chinese teaching strategies under the new curriculum standards). *学周刊* (Learning Weekly) 2017(5): 63–64.
- Jiang, Lirong and Xiao, Shuqi 蒋丽容, 肖淑琦 (2018) '浅析小学规范汉字书写的教学策略' (Exploring the teaching strategies of normative Chinese character writing in primary school). *教育教学研究* (Studies in Education and Teaching) 2008(1): 91–92.
- Leng, Chuanxia 冷传霞 (2018) '小学语文教学中情感教育的实施策略探析' (Investigating the implementation strategies of emotional education in primary school language teaching). *学周刊* (Learning Weekly) 2018(23): 43–44.
- Liang, Jie 梁杰 (2018) '杜威的空疏与叶圣陶的充实' (The emptiness of Dewey and the richness of Ye Shengtao). *语文建设* (Language Planning) 2018(7): 70–73.
- Liu, Changxi 刘长喜 (2018) '试析小学语文教学中如何有效地渗透情感教育' (A tentative analysis of how to permeate language education with emotional education). *中国校外教育* (Education for Chinese After-School) 2018(21): 140.
- Luo, Xianyou 罗先友 (2013) '叶圣陶语文教育思想中的四个基本点' (Four basic points and 10 regulations of Ye Shengtao's Chinese teaching thought). *课程·教材·教法* (Curriculum, Teaching Material and Method) 2013(8): 66–72.
- Meng, Xiaomin 蒙晓敏 (2016) '新课程体系下小学语文教学改革的几点思考' (A few thoughts regarding primary Chinese teaching innovations under the new curriculum system). *中国校外教育* (Education for Chinese After-School) 2016(24): 110.
- Shi, Minghong 史明虹 (2018) '低年级汉字教学的策略和要点' (Strategies and points for teaching lower elementary level Chinese characters). *发展导报* (Development Herald) 2018–07–20.
- Tang, Yi 唐奕 (2016) '翻转课堂在我国小学语文教育中的应用与问题' (Applications and problems of flipped classroom in Chinese teaching in China's primary schools). *成都师范学院学报* (Journal of Chengdu Normal University) 32(4): 42–45.
- Xu, Longnian 徐龙年 (2003) '语文课程标准与叶圣陶语文教育思想' (Language curriculum standards and Ye Shengtao's language education ideas). *教育探索* (Education Exploration) 2003(10): 64–66.
- Wang, Feng 王峰 (2017) '小学语文的识字教学研究' (The study of literacy teaching for elementary language courses). *科技资讯* (Science & Technology Information) 2017(36): 186–187.
- Wen, Rumin 温儒敏 (2018) '如何用好“统编本”小学语文教材' (How to use the unified compiled textbook of primary school Chinese effectively?). *课程·教材·教法* (Curriculum, Teaching Material and Method) 2018(2): 4–17.
- Yang, Congli 杨聪丽 (2016) '在小学语文教学中渗透德育教育' (On the infiltration of moral education into primary Chinese teaching). *科教文汇* (The Science Education Article Collects) 2016(05): 86–87.
- Yang Jun and Peng, Guichuan 杨俊, 彭贵川 (2005) '论在语文教学中渗透挫折教育' (Infiltration of frustration education in Chinese teaching). *四川师范大学学报(社会科学版)* (Journal of Sichuan Normal University (Philosophy and Social Sciences)) 32(6): 17–22.
- Yao, Zhihui 姚志惠 (2012) '中美小學語文課程標準的比較研究' (A comparative study on standards of national language curriculum in primary education between China and America). M.Education thesis, 漳州師範學院 (Zhangzhou Normal University).
- Ye, Shuyang. 叶舒阳 (2018) '小议繁简字与汉字繁简之争—兼谈对外汉语教学中的汉字处理' (On debates between traditional and simplified characters—also on the issue of Chinese characters in Chinese as a foreign language). *汉字文化* (Sinogram Culture) 2018(4): 70–72.
- Zhang, Weiliang 张维亮 (2018) '语文低年级汉字教学分析' (An analysis of lower elementary level Chinese character teaching). *汉字文化* (Sinogram Culture) 2018(5): 104.

From ‘Chinese to Foreigners’ to ‘Chinese International Education’

China’s Efforts in Promoting Its Language Worldwide

Chris Shei

Introduction

The term 对外汉语, literally ‘to-external Han-language’ appeared in China some 70 years ago when teaching Chinese to foreign students in China became a significant activity and then an established academic discipline. ‘Han Language’ (汉语) is synonymous with ‘Chinese language’ (中文) or *standard Chinese* as Han is the largest ethnic group in China (although some hold different views maintaining ‘Chinese language’ is ‘larger than’ Han language—the debate is irrelevant to the discussion here, however). At the moment, ‘Chinese to foreigners’ (对外汉语, henceforth CTF) is still the most popular term used in China to refer to the idea and activity of ‘teaching Chinese language to foreigners’, which translates into ‘Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language’ (TCFL) when the same activity is carried out elsewhere in the world by other agents. A non-existent opposite term could be 对内汉语 ‘to-internal Han-language’ meaning teaching Chinese to ethnic minorities who speak other languages or to children in China as literacy education, the latter usually replaced by the term 语文教育 ‘language and text education’. Although the term 对外汉语 does not explicitly contain the word ‘education’, the concept is subsumed in the term nevertheless, so for example, CTF does not refer to a specific way of using Chinese or a particular language product but is used strictly in an educational sense. Some see this as a discrepancy and use the full form of 对外汉语教学 ‘teaching Chinese to foreigners’ (henceforth TCTF) instead, explicitly containing the word ‘teaching’.

The use of the term 对外汉语 (CTF) is not without contention. Wang (2014), for example, argued about the inappropriateness of using the term in the foreign context. In Wang’s words:

奇怪的是，在外国从事汉语教学的人，也说“对外汉语教学”。...在英国、美国、德国、法国等外国，从事汉语教学，拿的是外国人的纳税钱，归人家外国教育部管理、管辖，还说什么“对外汉语教学”，滑稽不？ (p. 23) (What strikes me as odd is, even for those teaching Chinese abroad, the term ‘teaching Chinese to foreigners’ is also used. ... When we teach Chinese in the UK, US, Germany, France etc., we earn their taxpayers’ money and are managed by the education authority of the foreign country. Isn’t

it ridiculous when we still refer to this activity as 'teaching Chinese to foreigners' under these circumstances?)

Wang's suggestion for an alternative term is 汉语教学 ('Han language teaching') which according to him can uniquely refer to teaching Chinese to foreigners in China (since the term 语文教育 usually covers domestic Chinese teaching for literacy), was just one of the many proposals to replace the term with something less contentious. In fact, an alternative term to replace or to be used alongside with CTF was given in 2007, when China's Academic Degrees Committee of the State Council (国务院学位委员会) announced 汉语国际教育 (literally 'Chinese language for international education'; officially translated as 'Teaching Chinese to Speakers of Other Languages' or TCSOL) as a proper MA degree course. Cui (2010) makes a distinction between the two terms:

今天我们通常用“对外汉语教学”来指称“在国内对来华留学生进行的汉语教学”，用“汉语国际教育”指称“在海外把汉语作为外语的教学”。(p. 3) (Today we usually use 'Teaching Chinese to foreigners' to mean 'teaching Chinese to overseas students in China', and 'Teaching Chinese internationally' to mean 'teaching Chinese overseas as a foreign language'.)

Furthermore, according to Cui, the work of 对外汉语教学 (TCTF) is based on the principle of 'Welcome in' (请进来); whereas 汉语国际教育 (TCSOL) works on the basis of 'Going abroad' (走出去). Both 'strategies' should be pursued in tandem and they will each shine more brilliantly in the other's company, according to Cui.

In this chapter, I review the field of TCTF in China by dividing relevant research publications in the past 30 years into several clusters of concepts. Representative works in each cluster are reviewed with key notions extracted and examples of findings given. The end result is a network of concepts regarding the policy, aims, methods, participants, contents, principles, and outcomes of the enterprise of TCTF in China. In all probability, the strengths of TCTF that are hitherto not noticed by global practitioners and researchers of TCFL may be highlighted in the process of reviewing. Conversely, what is lacking or comparatively weak in the current model of TCTF in China can also be teased out by our critical review. Hopefully, some of the virtues of China's TCTF research and practice can be taken away and implemented in different contexts where they fit in. In the meantime, putting things in perspective may also generate more discussions and speculations in China's domestic TCTF field to help it grow into a sound and promising profession.

Overview of TCTF Research

Cheng (2015) proposed the concept of a 'critical turn from teaching Chinese in the domestic context to a global one' (p. 299). Cheng's view of the then current status of TCFL in China is largely negative. He criticized the inadequate efforts of the TCFL field in China, for example, 'to study the rules and methods of learning Chinese by people in other linguistic and cultural backgrounds' (p. 300). For Cheng, one of the two main reasons why Chinese has not become deservedly popular in the world arena is that 'most of the methods we use to promote Chinese in an international context come mainly from internal modules or experience' (ibid.)—the other reason being the intrinsic differences between Chinese and Western languages. Apart from blaming domestic teaching methods and outdated teaching materials, Cheng also pointed out the poor quality of Chinese teachers in respect of 'concepts' (presumably referring to teacher's

ideology about teaching), lack of cross-cultural awareness and skills, and insufficient command of English which make them unable to teach Chinese outside China. In principle, Cheng views China as the headquarter of promoting Chinese in the world, not only for cultural and economic benefits, but also as an ‘incumbent responsibility’ of the nation to the world. The main view presented in Cheng’s paper is that existing TCFL practice in China is ‘wrong’ in some ways when applied to the international setting. This can be seen in Cheng’s proposal for a ‘framework of reference for Chinese language’ ‘both inside and outside China’ (p. 306) which presumably starts from a remolding of all sectors in the existing system including programs, teachers, materials, methods, and so on, in light of the perceived new requirements of TCFL from outside. According to Cheng, this new paradigm will help ‘promote a smooth and healthy development of TCSL/TCFL in the global context’ (ibid.). This ‘revolution way of thinking’ further implies that current practices both inside and outside China are ‘unsmooth and unhealthy’ in some ways.

The intriguing thoughts expressed in Cheng’s (2015) article raise many questions. For one, is it really Chinese government’s ‘incumbent responsibility’ to promote the Chinese language worldwide, and indeed, what does promoting Chinese language overseas really mean? We will ponder this question throughout the chapter. Second, the status of current ‘internal modules or experience’ of TCTF on Cheng’s blueprint for its future development is somewhat ambiguous. Cheng first accused the current TCTF practice of being outdated and a hindrance to the dissemination of Chinese worldwide, then he proposed the establishment of a new reference framework for Chinese language ‘both inside and outside China’. The question is: where will this new framework come from if the current TCTF model inside China is entirely bad and useless? The obvious answer is that the current TCTF system in China is not entirely wrong or worthless. On the contrary, the current educational institutes and teachers, the teaching materials and the methodologies are all part of a working system firmly embedded in China’s indigenous society and traditional culture, inheriting many intrinsic values and virtues which are worth considering in our attempt to develop new TCFL models worldwide. The starting point should be the identification of strengths (as well as weaknesses) in the current paradigm, both of which are equally implicational to any foreign contexts, rather than making a sweeping claim that all existing domestic models are bad for international applications. Bearing this in mind, the following review of TCTF literature in China will identify useful theory and practice that can be readily adapted to the foreign contexts, as well as potentially problematic aspects that may need to be further addressed.

To understand what the researchers are publishing about in the field of TCTF in China, I searched the CNKI (中国知网) website with the keyword 对外汉语 (i.e. ‘Chinese language to foreigners’) in the Topic category and found 10,844 journal papers published between 1982 and 2018. The most relevant 6,000 bibliographic records of these articles are then exported to a scientific literature visualization tool called *CiteSpace* (Chen 2016). Although the software is capable of performing several types of analysis, we rely on the unique feature of *CiteSpace* to extract keywords from the Chinese bibliographic records without having to preprocess them in a separate application (such as a word segmenter). Many of the top keywords extracted from the 6,000 bibliographic records are presented in a visual form in Figure 2.1, the first 50 of which are also listed in Table 2.1 in order of frequency.

While Table 2.1 shows 50 of the top keywords extracted from the 6,000 bibliographic records, in effect there are 368 keywords found by *CiteSpace* ranging from 2 to 1934 in frequency count. Out of all the keywords extracted from the TCTF publications in China we can build a model of key concepts researchers in the field are most concerned about, as presented in Figure 2.2. All or most of the 368 keywords extracted by *CiteSpace* from the bibliographic notes of 6,000 journal papers published between 1982 and 2018 on the topic of 对外汉语 in China can be mapped into the categories proposed in Figure 2.2. If we review some representative literature

Table 2.1 The first 50 keywords extracted by CiteSpace from a corpus of 10,844 bibliographic records

No.	Frequency	Keyword	English translation
1	1934	对外汉语教学	teaching Chinese language to foreigners
2	1421	对外汉语	Chinese language to foreigners
3	236	教学	teaching
4	194	汉语国际教育	international Chinese language education
5	186	留学生	overseas student
6	173	对外汉语教材	Chinese language to foreigners teaching materials
7	140	词汇教学	vocabulary teaching
8	136	汉语教学	Chinese language teaching
9	120	教学策略	teaching strategy
10	105	文化教学	teaching culture
11	102	汉语	Han language
12	101	偏误分析	error analysis
13	96	文化	culture
14	94	教学方法	teaching method
15	91	偏误	error
16	89	对外汉语教师	outbound Chinese teacher
17	87	教学模式	teaching model
18	82	汉字教学	teaching Chinese character
19	76	对外汉语专业	outbound Chinese program/course
20	76	教材	teaching material
21	75	词汇	vocabulary
22	73	跨文化交际	intercultural communication
23	71	汉字	Chinese character
24	67	课堂教学	classroom teaching
25	66	课程设置	curriculum design
26	65	留学人员	persons studying abroad
27	59	汉语国际推广	international promotion of Chinese language
28	54	策略	strategy
29	54	孔子学院	Confucius Institute
30	53	教学法	teaching method
31	51	语言教学	language teaching
32	50	教材编写	compilation of teaching material
33	44	学习汉语	learning Chinese language
34	42	口语教学	spoken language teaching
35	41	原则	principle
36	39	对策	countermeasure
37	37	现代汉语	modern Han language
38	37	方法	method
39	37	语言	language
40	37	国际学术研讨会	international academic conference
41	35	应用	application
42	35	文化因素	cultural factor
43	34	初级阶段	elementary level
44	33	国际汉语教学	international Chinese language teaching
45	32	语境	language context
46	32	教师	teacher
47	32	翻转课堂	flipped classroom
48	31	语法	syntax/grammar
49	30	文化传播	cultural dissemination
50	29	教学建议	teaching suggestion

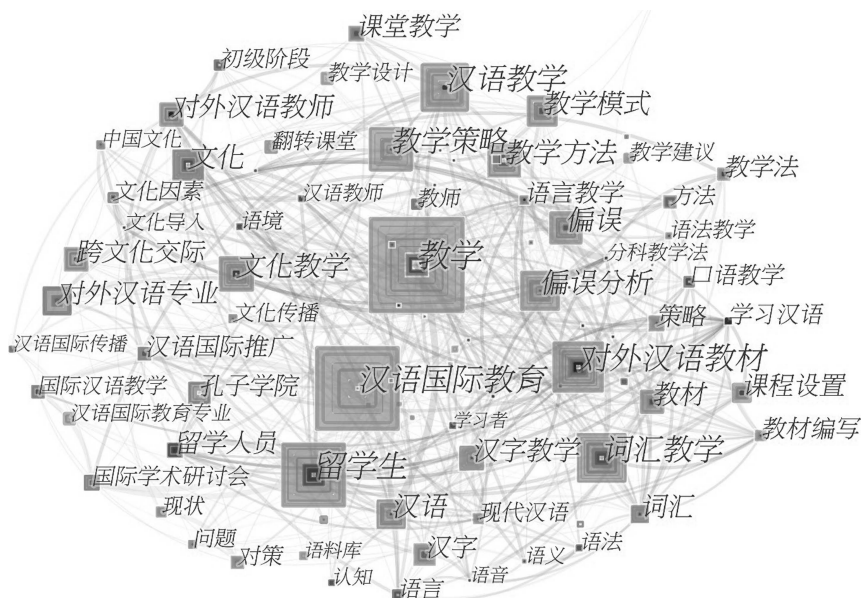


Figure 2.1 Visualization of keywords extracted from the 6,000 search results of ‘对外汉语’

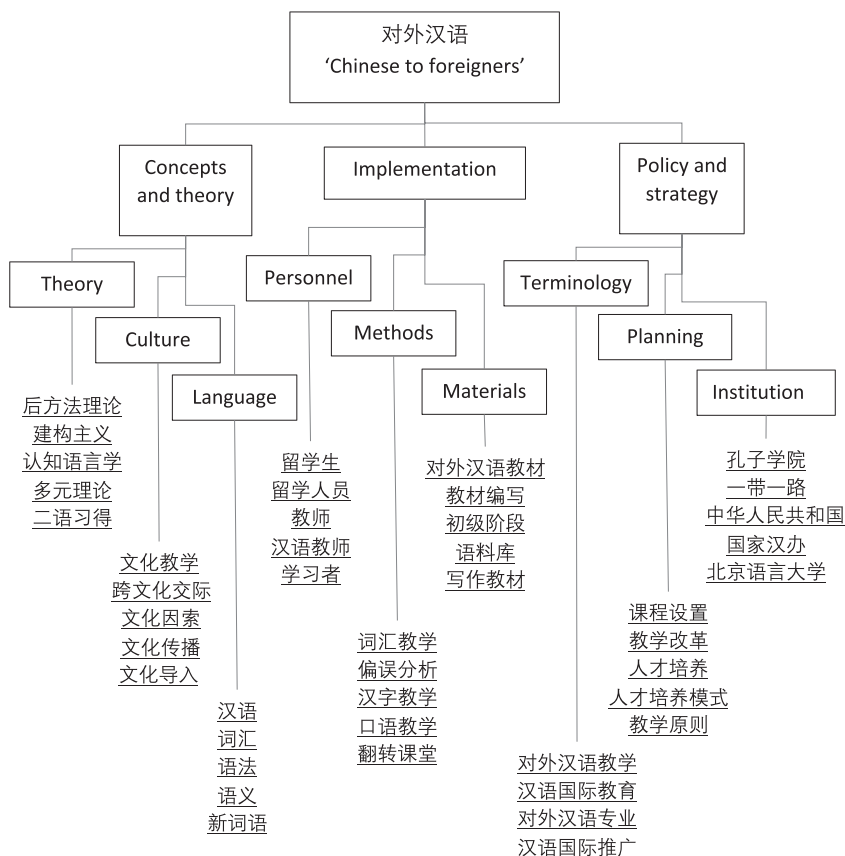


Figure 2.2 A system of keywords representing the most researched concepts in the TCTF field in China

of each category in a coherent fashion, we can put together an overall picture of TCTF in China including its policy, implementation, and background concepts and theory. The following sections will review the literature by looking at some of these interconnected concepts and practices through representative publications.

Chinese Language Policy and Strategy

First, we look at some of the top-level terminology extracted from China’s TCTF publications. According to Table 2.1, 对外汉语教学 (TCTF) and 汉语国际教育 (TCSOL) are the two full-phrase terms most frequently referred to in the field. A preliminary discussion of the contrast and relationship between these two terms was already given in a previous section revolving around Cui’s (2010) comments about the contrastive and complementary nature of the two concepts. Zhang and Xiao (2016) further suggest a move from ‘research type’ student development model under TCTF to ‘application type’ model under the updated TCSOL concept. In fact, TCSOL is not just a new academic discipline. It is often seen as a movement to enhance China’s national image by promoting China’s language, culture, and other forms of soft power around the world. Wu (2016), for example, claims that it is important for (the practitioners of) TCSOL to find compatible national strategies to bundle with when taking it abroad. Wu himself suggests five strategies: ‘Going abroad’ strategy, ‘Enhancing national cultural soft power’ strategy, ‘Building a harmonious world’ strategy, ‘Public diplomacy and Cultural diplomacy’ strategy, and the Silk Road Economic Belt strategy. This ‘strategy approach’ to TCSOL is in keeping with another term (also appearing in Table 2.1) officially proposed at the first World Chinese Conference held in Beijing in 2005: 汉语国际推广 (‘International promotion of Chinese language’, henceforth IPCL) (See Wan 2017: 236). The nature of the IPCL initiative is evident from Li’s (2016) ‘cost-benefit analysis’ which takes China’s achievement in promoting Chinese language globally as a manifestation of its growing economic power. More importantly, according to Li, China as an advocate of harmonious society is often misunderstood and even ‘distorted’ by the Western countries. The promotion of Chinese language is an opportunity to advance Chinese culture to the global stage, ‘breaking through the hegemony of the English language’ (突破英语的霸权地位) and making the world a truly multicultural civilization.

The initiative of TCSOL or the ambition of IPCL as depicted by Li (2016) has been followed up both outside and inside China, the former by establishing overseas education agencies like Confucius Institutes and the latter by strengthening the TCSOL degree courses at home and forging connections with foreign universities to establish internship programs and so on. According to The Statistics Portal, by the end of 2017 a total of 525 Confucius Institutes have been established in the world. As language is inseparable from culture (and there is no intention to separate them according to Li’s proposition), the teaching of Confucius Institute is not about language alone but everything that comes with it: culture, identity, politics, and ideology. Inevitably, there will be a clash somewhere along this line between Confucius Institutes and the host countries that makes the ideals of TSCOL or IPCL untenable. The worst scenario is one described in Wan (2017):

因为孔子学院数量的急速增长，加上官方过多的宣传，使得汉语国际推广被冠以“文化侵入”“政治宣传”的帽子。进而，一些不了解中国语言文化的外国民众对学习中文产生抵触心理，在这种形势下进行汉语推广和文化传播就好比是逆水行舟。(p. 237) (Due to the rapid increase of the number of Confucius Institutes and excessive government propaganda, the international promotion of Chinese language was branded as ‘cultural invasion’ and ‘political propaganda’. This prompted some foreign civilians who do

not understand the Chinese language and culture to mentally reject the learning of Chinese. Under this condition, the promotion of Chinese language and the dissemination of culture is like steering the boat against the current.)

Wang and Zhang (2018) see the same problem, admitting that there is still a big difference in the domain of ideology between China and other countries in the world. To tackle this problem, they advise keeping a low profile when promoting the Chinese language internationally while actively introducing Chinese traditional culture to the world. They argue that, since language is the carrier of culture, in order for Chinese to become a strong language in the world someday, the Chinese culture it carries must have its unique charm. Wang and Zhang's work raises some interesting questions: What is the nature of language (and language teaching) and that of culture and ideology etc. and what are the relationships between the former and the latter? How exactly is one embedded in the other (e.g. ideology in language) and what does it mean to do one less and the other more? By promoting culture actively and 'keeping a low profile on language teaching', do Wang and Zhang mean the activity of language teaching can be more associated with (the potentially more controversial) politics and ideology; while the promotion of culture is relatively harmless? In any case, it does not seem entirely right to assume that an emphasis on culture can help avoid any ideological clash and clear the path for the introduction of language.

In addition to the cultural, political, and ideological problems alluded to above, Li, Guan and Pang (2017) also analyzed the operation of Confucius Institutes and identified three issues:

- **Chinese teachers:** poor cultural and professional qualities, old-fashioned teaching methods, weak psychological makeup and poor communicative competence, lack of stability
- **Teaching materials:** lack of outstanding and universally applicable teaching materials
- **Risks in host country:** attitudes of US towards Hanban (汉办, Office of Chinese Language Council International) teachers and their cooperation being highly changeable; recent policy tightening and closure of some Confucius Institutes

In short, Li's (2016) vision of promoting Chinese language and culture to the world stage is not an easy one to accomplish, being undermined by ideological, pedagogical, and technical problems. All these issues seem traceable back to the home. For example, Xu, Zhao and Wei (2016) highlighted three problems existing in China's TCSOL programs: 1. The structure of the TCSOL is too general and shallow, lacking in professional touches. 2. Students are not equipped with sufficient practical skills. 3. Teaching is mainly lecture based with little interaction and discussion between teachers and students.

A substantial number of solutions have been proposed by Chinese academics to strengthen the TCSOL programs in order to successfully implement the IPCL initiative. For example, in terms of the lack of unique program features, both Cui (2015) and He (2018) propose that TCSOL should become a self-contained academic discipline. According to He,

“汉语国际教育”独立成为学院符合世界一流大学一流学科所要求的“小而精”的特点，同时也可集中力量，提高办学水平。(p. 36) (Making TCSOL an independent college is in agreement with the 'small and exquisite' feature demanded by the first-class discipline of a world class university. As a result, we can concentrate our efforts and enhance the quality of education.)

Likewise, Cui recommended that TCSOL be treated as an independent level-two subject (二级学科) instead of being affiliated to other disciplines. In addition, Cui (2015) also proposed

a TCSOL curriculum model and mapped out the major subjects contained in it, including linguistics, Chinese language and character studies, education studies, cognitive science and contemporary educational technology. Thirty book titles are subsequently listed in the paper to serve as prospective TCSOL textbooks, including research methods in language teaching, history of the Chinese language, introduction to second language teaching, TCSOL materials, educational technology and so on and so forth, which according to Cui are in the process of being published with Cui as the general editor.

As regards Hanban teachers’ lack of practical teaching and communication skills, many universities in China offering TCSOL programs are now in the course of setting up internship with universities of neighboring countries, so that students can learn the target language, assimilate the new culture and sharpen their teaching skills in study abroad sessions. Wang (2015), for example, proposed a ‘packaged overseas internship’ model (整建制海外实习模式) where Xinjiang Normal University teams up with universities in Central Asia (Tajikistan, Kyrgyzstan etc.) to provide linguistic, cultural, and educational training for TCSOL students. The proposed internship lasts for 18 weeks and includes five components:

- applied Russian (俄语运用): practicing the use of Russian in context
- cultural training (文化培训): understanding cultural/educational patterns of host country
- cultural practice (文化实践): experiencing cultural environments and activities
- Chinese teaching (汉语教学): practice teaching at local Confucius Institute independently
- cultural communication (文化交流): learning Chinese cultures like martial arts, Chinese opera, paper cutting, calligraphy, Chinese painting, tea art and so on.

According to Wang (2015), the packaged internship model successfully delivered such good results as enhancement of student Russian skills and Chinese teaching skills, establishment of the university’s high reputation abroad (attracting large numbers of foreign students from Central Asia to study with Xinjiang Normal University), increased domestic influence (attracting sponsorship from Hanban for student bursaries), and better career prospects for students undergoing the internship. The same success stories of study abroad and internship programs for TCSOL students have been reported from elsewhere in China, such as Chen and Bao (2018) (with Southeast Asia), Gao (2018) (with Thailand), Yang (2018) (with Association of Southeast Asian Nations) and so on.

In short, the evolution of terminology from 对外汉语教学 (TCTF) to 汉语国际教育 (TCSOL) and 汉语国际推广 (IPCL) signifies China’s policy change, commensurate with its economic growth, from educating foreigners visiting the country to exporting language and culture abroad presumably to amass more soft power. However, the international promotion of Chinese language experienced some setbacks due to ideological clash with the West and other factors such as incompetent teachers and outdated teaching methods. Researchers and practitioners of TCSOL in China are charting a new course for the program by designing specific curricula, arguing for its independent status as an academic discipline, setting up internship connections with foreign countries, and so on and so forth. With all these changes, improvements in teaching efficiency and learning outcomes are to be expected. It remains to be seen, however, whether Li’s (2016) vision of ‘terminating the hegemony of English’ and elevating Chinese to comparable status in the world can be accomplished without any ideological change.

Teaching Concepts and Methods

This section reviews some publications regarding teaching concepts, methods, and materials of TCTF/ TCSOL. We note some high-frequency keywords listed in Table 2.1 in these areas

(English translation followed by frequency): 对外汉语教材 (TCTF materials, 173), 词汇教学 (vocabulary teaching, 140), 教学策略 (teaching strategy, 120), 偏误分析 (error analysis, 101), 教学方法 (teaching method, 94), 教材编写 (textbook writing, 50). Some specific teaching theories are also recognized by *CiteSpace* as keywords though not listed in Table 1.1 due to lower frequency: 后方法理论 (postmethod theory, 8), 建构主义 (constructivism, 6), 二语习得 (second language acquisition, 3). The review provided below revolves around these interrelated key concepts. We start by gaining an overview of the TCTF research regarding background theory and practicality of teaching, examining how cognitive/linguistic theories like constructivism, postmethod pedagogy, and second language acquisition serve as basis for models of teaching. We then concentrate on the two most frequently mentioned terms about teaching methodologies in the TCTF literature: vocabulary teaching and error analysis. We round up the discussion by referring to some works on the compilation of TCTF materials.

Chen (2018) reviews and reflects on the TCSL (Teaching Chinese as Second Language) research in China for the previous 10 years, following the below structure:

1. TCSL program establishment
 - Program status
 - National standards
 - Teaching concepts and methodologies
 - Teaching models and strategies
 - Curriculum design
2. Teaching linguistics components
 - Teaching phonetics
 - Teaching vocabulary
 - Teaching grammar
 - Teaching Chinese characters
3. Teaching language skills
 - General Chinese course
 - Listening and spoken course
 - Reading and writing course
 - Educational technology and resources, cultural teaching etc.
4. Teacher
 - Development of teacher quality and knowledge
 - Development of teacher professional skills
 - Development of teacher lifelong career
 - Teacher training
 - Teaching standards and evaluation
5. Teaching materials

In the teaching concepts section, Chen observed that Chinese TCSL, while importing cutting-edge teaching concepts and methodologies from abroad, is also actively exploring synthesized concepts and methodologies particularly suitable to the Chinese context. In addition, Chen made the cogent remark that a teaching model for a short-term Chinese course targeting overseas business personnel should combine ‘classroom teaching’ and ‘practical teaching’ making the

maximum use of China's magnificent environment. A summary of the recent trend for TCSL researchers to marry Western methodology with Chinese context is quoted from Chen (2018) below:

TCSL近年来在以“以学生为中心”的基础上，更加注重“语境”，既注重课堂上的“小语境”，也注重课堂外“大语境”的利用。(p. 21) (In recent years, TCSL works on the basis of 'learner-centred' principle on one hand, and emphasizes 'context' on the other hand, focusing on both 'small context' in the classroom as well as the 'big context' outside the class.)

Arguably, 'synergy' and 'context' are two of the most important keywords both to the TCTF profession in China and to TCFL researchers worldwide. For the latter, these are factors that cannot be accessed outside China, especially the 'big context' of Chinese cultures and society, history and traditions, peoples and arts that can only be experienced firsthand within the country. This is also why TCTF practice and research in China cannot be deemed entirely outdated and negligible, as Cheng (2015) seems to suggest.

One example of exporting Chinese teaching strategies overseas, this time to Africa, is given by Zhou (2014), who analyzed problems encountered by students learning Chinese at the Confucius Institute of the University of Burundi and proposed teaching strategies comprising both Chinese and foreign elements. For example, on the teaching of Chinese phonetics, Zhou pointed out the similarities and differences between the five tones of Kirundi (the official Burundi language) and Chinese ones and proposed ways of comparing similar tones and contrasting different pitch levels for students to master the Chinese pronunciation.

Some theories of learning have been imported from the West and helped set up foundation for TCTF research in China. A language teaching theory that is often mentioned is Kumaravadivelu's (1994) 'postmethod condition'. Guo and Liu (2016), for example, understand language teaching as a 'multi-factor, multi-level, multi-discipline and multi-dimensional process' under the postmethod theory. Teaching should not be restricted to fixed methods or specific procedures, but should be an 'open and dynamically developing system'. Guo and Liu therefore propose a postmethod teaching model which combines the traditional approach of teaching Chinese character (字本位) and vocabulary (词本位) separately into a 'dual dynamic system' that teaches both characters and words at the same time by analyzing words into characters and recombining characters into similar words based on semantic associations and morphological principles. For example, by breaking 典礼 ('ceremony') into 典 ('code') and 礼 ('ritual'), each character of this word can further be associated with other characters to create semantically related words such as 盛典 ('grand ceremony'), 大典 ('big ceremony'), 婚礼 ('wedding'), 葬礼 ('burial'), 丧礼 ('funeral') and so on. Guo and Liu refer to cognitive psychology and 'levels of processing model of memory' as the theoretical foundation for their teaching model, suggesting that deeper processing of information, especially when associated with existing information, will increase the likelihood of its entering into long-term memory.

Another learning theory used as theoretical foundation for some TCTF works is constructivism. Chen (2015), for example, understands the core idea of constructivism as 'student-centered' instruction, where each learner receives new information and integrates it into existing knowledge base, adjusting and reconfiguring the entire knowledge framework. Chen argues that most overseas students coming to China are adults equipped with mature thinking and consciousness of self-independence as well as a complete worldview regarding society, value, and life. These overseas students, according to Chen, are well experienced learners, highly motivated and inquisitive and cannot be satisfied with the traditional 'spoon-feeding' way of teaching focused

on individual skills (e.g. listening or speaking). Instead, these students look more to holistic, applied language skills, hoping to explore the learning process together with the teacher in an interactive manner, accomplishing the aims of communication, cooperation, and discovery through a variety of teaching activities. Therefore, Chen suggests that TCTF contents should be practical and advanced with interesting topics, allowing students to be active and creative, enhancing student ability to conduct independent learning and investigation and in the meantime, populating teaching materials with Chinese culture and tradition, disseminating Chinese civilization and making students know, befriend and love China (知华, 友华, 爱华).

When discussing second language acquisition (SLA), the Chinese literature often refers to Corder (1967) *The Significance of Learners' Errors* and Selinker (1972) *Interlanguage* (e.g. Song 2014; Si 2011), which engendered a large number of research publications in China. The term 偏误分析 ('error analysis', henceforth EA) still occupies a significant place in the keyword list of Table 2.1 to date. Si (2011) suggested that EA research started in China from Lu's (1984) work on interlanguage theory and error analysis of foreigners learning Chinese phonetics, became prosperous from 1990 and entered a 'concluding stage' after 2000. From the start, Lu (1984) emphasized the distinction between 错误 ('error-mistake') and 偏误 ('diversion-mistake'), the former referring to random mistakes and tongue slipping when using the language, the latter to systematic gaps between interlanguage and standard language. The term 偏误 has since been adopted by Chinese researchers in the field. Lu (1992) further pointed out four basic categories of learner errors: 遗漏 (missing), 增添 (addition), 替代 (substitution), 错序 (wrong order), although he also revealed two weaknesses in the then current EA approach: 1. the exclusive focus on linguistic errors (sound, grammar, vocabulary) at the expense of discourse and pragmatics, and 2. the attribution of source of errors to the interference of mother tongue alone. In terms of sources of error, Lu made a very interesting observation that textbooks can mislead students and directly cause the errors. One example he gave involves two Chinese sentences illustrating the usage of the particle 着: 拿着花去看一个生病的学生 ('visiting a sick student bringing flowers') and 病房里放着花 ('There are flowers in the ward'). There is nothing wrong linguistically with these sentences. However, the cultural information they release is inaccurate, as bringing flowers to patients is not a Chinese custom, and (some) hospitals prohibit the display of flowers in wards.

As shown in Table 2.1, vocabulary teaching is the most frequently explored teaching dimension of TCTF in China. Many research findings in this area are worth mentioning. Li and Wu (2005), for example, pointed out the close relationship between Chinese words and morphemes. Since the total number of senses of morphemes is much smaller than that of words, they argued, it should be highly efficient to teach Chinese vocabulary on the basis of morphological analysis. In order to prove their point, Li and Wu did a componential analysis of 1859 two-morpheme words from *The Syllabus of the Graded Vocabulary for HSK* (汉语水平词汇与汉字等级大纲). As some words come with more than one sense (e.g. 包袱 can mean 'a backpack' or 'a burden'), the overall senses for the 1,859 words are actually 2,494 in number. Li and Wu divided the semantic relationships between the two morphemes in each of these word senses into four categories (English interpretations followed by their percentages): 直义 (componential, 47.39%), 转义 (reinterpretation, 41.66%), 偏义 (loss of one meaning, 6.13%) and 无关 (unrelated, 4.81%). If their analysis was correct, nearly half (47.39%) of the word senses sampled are direct combinations of the meanings of their component morphemes. Another 41.66 percent of word senses can be arrived at through extension and transformation on top of the meanings of the two component morphemes. Li and Wu argued that teaching Chinese vocabulary on the basis of morphological analysis can therefore enhance the efficiency of vocabulary learning and develop student's self-learning and language generation abilities. In addition, navigating

between morphemes and words not only facilitates student’s understanding of word meanings but also helps increase their memory capacity for words and develop ability to think in Chinese. This view is partially supported by Li and Yang’s (2004) research which pointed out the correspondence between Chinese word-formation rules and Chinese thinking styles. For example, in the series 树枝 (‘tree-branch’), 树叶 (‘tree-leave’), 树干 (‘tree-trunk’), 树根 (‘tree-root’), the first morpheme 树 expresses the whole and the second morpheme, the part. In the series 松树 (‘pine-tree’), 柳树 (‘willow-tree’), 榆树 (‘elm-tree’), on the other hand, the name comes first and then the substance of the named. In these examples, Chinese thinking patterns are embedded in Chinese word configurations (as manifested by the order and organization of morphemes which normally stand for individual concepts) and can be accessed by the vocabulary teaching method Li and Wu (2005) proposed.

Teaching materials for TCTF is another focal point of research, taking a significant place in Table 2.1. Geng (2017) reviewed 10 years’ research on textbook compilation for TCTF in China and suggested three directions for further improvements:

1. Moving from the study of traditional textbooks to that of teaching resources: In addition to the main texts, focus should be placed on supportive materials such as exercise book and teacher manual, related materials such as flip chart and flashcard, and digital resources such as videos, webpages, apps, and learning platforms.
2. Strengthening basic research on materials and teaching, moving from ‘static’ to ‘dynamic’: New generation of textbooks are not knowledge imparters but stimulators for classroom interaction. Research on materials should also pay attention to the dynamic process of teaching and learning in addition to the study of texts.
3. Strengthening research on types of textbooks and the countries they are for: Overseas students coming to China to learn language have strong professional needs and preferences. Increasingly teaching materials should be developed for different countries, ages, and learning purposes. The traditional ‘one textbook for all’ approach is no longer viable.

We have seen how actively Chinese academics and practitioners are participating in TCTF and TCSOL research in recent decades, importing learning theories from the West on one hand and developing integrated theories and building up capacities for innovative approaches on the other hand, based on China’s large intake of foreign students and their interactions with the local culture and people. The sheer breadth of this amount of research and the richness of the discourse promise to generate meaningful findings to the Chinese language teaching profession, not only in China, but on a global scale, while researchers search every nook and cranny for interesting topics in TCTF/TCSOL.

Conclusion

The ‘research papers’ I have used to produce the review mostly consist of less than 10 pages, most of which read like extensive summaries of a larger piece of work (though in fact there is usually no mention of more serious research backing up these short reports). Yu (2016), for one, recognized this tendency correctly when he said that:

以往的大多文章在理论探讨后常常只是提出构想，但对于是否已经实施、实施的效果并未作明确交代 (p. 297) (Most papers in the past often offered speculations after exploring the theory. As for whether the idea had been implemented or not and the effect of implementation, no clear evidence was given.)

Although Yu's observation was limited to the discussion of research output in Chinese character teaching, the problem he mentioned actually persists in all or most of the papers I read in the process of writing this chapter. The majority of TCTF papers produced in China so far seems more of a theoretical nature and very concise in form. In addition to the lack of details and depth, there is also a great void of empirically based research. This tendency falls dramatically short of the modern requirements for carefully controlled, classroom-based research to improve language teaching theory and practice, for one thing.

Disregarding the issue of quality, there are a lot more publications on Chinese language teaching in the homeland than outside China. Gong et al. (2018), for example, were able to select 1,358 articles from CNKI published in China on the subject from 2004 to 2016 but only 175 papers from the English based Web of Science. In addition, most of the TCFL articles published in English internationally are also written by Chinese authors, judging from their names. This could mean that TCFL has thus far not been treated very seriously by Western researchers as an academic discipline. This can further imply that not many Westerners who speak Chinese are in the academic profession and not a lot of applied linguists capable of doing research are Chinese-speaking. The end result is a lapse in communication between China and the West about the research and practice of TCFL/TCFL. In this regard, Gong et al.'s (2018) suggestions are clearly relevant, including for Chinese and international journals to 'prioritize the publication of cross-border studies' and for 'researchers in and outside mainland China to co-organize academic dialogues on Chinese language education' (p. 287).

A question that haunts us at the end of this discussion is *What does TCTF/TCSOL mean to China?* Was Cheng (2015) correct to assume that Chinese language teaching in the global contexts is an 'incumbent responsibility' of the Chinese government, or is Wang's (2014) view quoted below more tenable?

对外国人的汉语教学，应当是人家要学汉语，不是我们要人家学习汉语。中国在外国开办的孔子学院需要注意这个问题：是人家要学汉语，我们支持、帮助，不是我们要人家学汉语，不是我们到人家国家去“推广汉语”。(p. 23) (Teaching Chinese to foreigners should be based on people's willingness to learn. It is not a matter of our wanting others to learn Chinese. The Confucius Institutes we set up overseas must pay attention to this issue: When people are voluntarily learning our language, we provide help and support. It is not the case that we ask others to learn Han language, that we promote Han language in other people's country.)

Wang's idea of promoting Chinese language above can easily subsume the promotion of culture (and possibly and inadvertently, ideology) alongside language, with the same negative implication—Do people in other countries really want to learn the Chinese language AND accept the cultural, political, and ideological implications? It may be that, either this attractive but somewhat ambiguous package of 'Teaching Chinese to Speakers of Other Languages' should be further modified to become more acceptable to the receiving end, or it will continue to meet resistance and maintain the status quo of the Chinese language on the global stage.

References

English References

Chen, C. (2016) *CiteSpace: A Practical Guide for Mapping Scientific Literature*. New York: Nova Science Publishers.

- Cheng, Aimin. (2015) 'Teaching Chinese in the global context: Challenges and strategies'. *European Review* 23(2): 297–308.
- Corder, S. P. (1967) 'The significance of learner's errors'. *International Review of Applied Linguistics in Language Teaching* 5(4): 161–170.
- Gong, Yang, Lyu, Boning and Gao, Xuesong. (2018) 'Research on teaching Chinese as a second or foreign language in and outside Mainland China: A bibliometric analysis'. *The Asia-Pacific Education Researcher* 27(4): 277–289.
- Kumaravivelu, B. (1994) 'The postmethod condition: (E)merging strategies for second/foreign language teaching'. *TESOL Quarterly* 28(1): 27–48.
- Selinker, L. (1972) 'Interlanguage'. *International Review of Applied Linguistics in Language Teaching* 10(3): 209–231.

Chinese References

- Chen, Wenwen 陈雯雯 (2018) '国内近十年 T C S L 研究现状与思考' (A review of the domestic studies on TCSL in the past decade). 云南师范大学学报(对外汉语教学与研究版) (Journal of Yunnan Normal University—Teaching and Research on Chinese as a Foreign Language) 16(4): 19–31.
- Chen, Xiaofeng and Xiaoling, Bao 陈晓峰, 包小玲 (2018) '面向东南亚的汉语教师培养及汉语教学实践基地建设研究' (A study of Southeast Asia based Chinese teacher development and Chinese language teaching practice establishment). 教育观察 (Survey of Education) 2018(9): 90–91 + 113.
- Chen, Yu 陈瑜 (2015) '基于建构主义理论的对外汉语教学模式的改革与实践' (Reform and implementation of Chinese for foreigners teaching model based on constructivism). 科技风 (Technology Wind) 2015(18): 239–240.
- Cui, Xiliang 崔希亮 (2010) '对外汉语教学与汉语国际教育的发展与展望' (The development and prospect of teaching Chinese as a second language and international Chinese education). 语言文字应用 (Applied Linguistics) 2010(2): 2–11.
- Cui, Xiliang 崔希亮 (2015) '关于汉语国际教育的学科定位问题' (On the discipline orientation of TCSOL). 世界汉语教学 (Chinese Teaching in the World) 2015(3): 405–411.
- Gao, Xianju 高鲜菊 (2018) '汉语国际教育中泰合作交流研究' (On teaching Chinese to Speakers of Other Languages and China-Thailand cooperation and communication). 南宁职业技术学院学报 (Journal of Nanning Polytechnic) 2018(3): 26–29.
- Geng, Zhi 耿直 (2017) "'汉语国际教育"十年来对外汉语教材编写研究综述' (An overview of TCTF textbook compilation research for TCSOL for the past 10 years). 河南社会科学 (Henan Social Sciences) 2017(4): 112–115.
- Guo, Xiumin and Changzheng, Liu 郭修敏, 刘长征 (2016) '基于后方法理论的“汉字-词汇”二元动态教学模式探索' (Exploration of Chinese character-word dual-dynamic teaching model based on the postmethod theory). 学术论坛 (Academic Forum) 304: 177–180.
- He, Hongxia 何洪霞 (2018) '汉语国际教育发展对策研究' (A study of the development strategy of TCSOL) 2018(9): 32–36.
- Li, Huiwen, Chunmei, Guan and Hui, Pang 李惠文, 关春梅, 庞晖 (2017) '当前国家汉办外派教师赴美工作中存在的问题与对策' (Hanban-sponsored Chinese language programs in the US: Problems and coping strategies). 云南师范大学学报(对外汉语教学与研究版) (Journal of Yunnan Normal University: Teaching and Research on Chinese as a Foreign Language) 2017(3): 88–92.
- Li, Rulong and Ming, Wu 李如龙, 吴茗 (2005) '略论对外汉语词汇教学的两个原则' (On the two principles of teaching vocabulary in TCSL). 语言教学与研究 (Language Teaching and Linguistic Studies) 2005(2): 41–47.
- Li, Rulong and Jichun, Yang 李如龙, 杨吉春 (2004) '对外汉语教学应以词汇教学为中心' (Vocabulary teaching should be the focus of teaching Chinese as a second language). 暨南大学华文学院学报 (TCSOL Studies) 2004(4): 21–29.
- Li, Xiaocui 李晓翠 (2016) '试论汉语国际推广的成本与效益' (On the cost and benefit of international promotion of Chinese language). 牡丹江教育学院学报 (Journal of Mudanjiang College of Education) 2016(2): 52–53.

- Lu, Jianji 鲁健骥 (1984) ‘中介语理论与外国人学习汉语的语音偏误分析’ (Interlanguage theory and the error analysis of foreigners learning Chinese phonetics). 语言教学与研究 (Language Teaching and Linguistic Studies) 1984(3): 44–56.
- Lu, Jianji 鲁健骥 (1992) ‘偏误分析与对外汉语教学’ (Error analysis and teaching Chinese as foreign language). 语言文字应用 (Applied Linguistics) 1992(1): 69–73.
- Si, Yanyan 司艳艳 (2011) ‘近三十年来对外汉语偏误分析研究综述’ (An overview of research on error analysis in teaching Chinese to foreigners for the past 30 years). 聊城大学学报(社会科学版) (Journal of Liaocheng University—Social Sciences Edition) 2011(2): 148–149.
- Song, Yang 宋扬 (2014) ‘汉语作为第二语言习得研究述评’ (A summary review of the ten-year researches on CSL acquisition). 云南师范大学学报(对外汉语教学与研究版) (Journal of Yunnan Normal University—Teaching and Research on Chinese as a Foreign Language Edition) 12(2): 51–60.
- Wan, Xiaoming 万筱铭 (2017) ‘“一带一路”进程中汉语国际推广问题探究’ (Exploring the issue of the international promotion of Chinese language in the process of one belt, one road). 江西社会科学 (Jiangxi Social Sciences) 2017(4): 236–241.
- Wang, Jing 王 静 (2015) ‘汉语国际教育 本科专业海外实习模式构建研究’ (Research in construction on TCFL internship model overseas). 新疆师范大学学报(哲学社会科学版) (Journal of Xinjiang Normal University: Edition of Philosophy and Social Sciences) 2015(3): 129–133.
- Wang, Tianyou and Wenguo, Zhang 王天佑, 张文国 (2018) ‘关于汉语国际教育的几个焦点问题’ (Some focal points regarding international Chinese education). 枣庄学院学报 (Journal of Zaozhuang University) 2018(4): 81–84.
- Wang, Xijie 王希杰 (2014) ‘汉语和汉语教学的再认识’ (Re-recognition of Chinese language and teaching of Chinese language). 渤海大学学报(哲学社会科学版) Journal of Bohai University (Philosophy & Social Science Edition) 2013(1): 20–25.
- Wu, Yinghui 吴应辉 (2016) ‘汉语国际教育面临的若干理论与实践问题’ (On some TCSOL-related theories and practice). 云南师范大学学报(哲学社会科学版) Journal of Yunnan Normal University (Humanities and Social Sciences) 2016(1): 38–46.
- Xu, Jing, Li, Zhao and Hong, Wei 徐晶, 赵丽, 韦宏 (2016) ‘“一带一路”视角下汉语国际教育专业人才培养改革探析—以大庆师范学院汉语国际教育专业为例’ (Investigating the reform of professional TCSOL talents development with the perspective on ‘one belt, one road’: Using the TCSOL program of Daqing Normal University as example). 大庆师范学院学报 (Journal of Daqing Normal University) 2016(3): 97–99.
- Yang, Xuming 杨绪明 (2018) ‘面向东盟的汉语国际教育人才培养模式研究—以广西师范学院为例’ (The talent cultivation modal on Chinese international education for ASEAN—take Guangxi Teachers Education University as an example). 钦州学院学报 (Journal of Qinzhou University) 2018(7): 89–95 + 100.
- Yu, Wanchuan 尉万传 (2016) ‘近二十年对外汉字教学研究综述’ (An overview of teaching Chinese characters to foreigners in the last 20 years). 国际汉学报 (Journal of International Chinese Studies) 2016(1): 289–301.
- Zhang, Fang and Renfei, Xiao 张 芳, 肖任飞 (2016) ‘国际化创新型汉语国际教育人才培养的思考’ (Some thoughts on the internationalized innovative talent development model of Chinese language for international education). 继续教育研究 (Continue Education Research) 2016(6): 122–125.
- Zhou, Pin 周品 (2014) ‘国外起点水平汉语课堂教学策略初探—以布隆迪学生为例’ (A study on teaching strategies for oversea beginning Chinese class—Taking Burundian students as an example). 兴义民族师范学院学报 (Journal of Xingyi Normal University for Nationalities) 2014(2): 72–76.

The Beginning of Chinese Professorship and Chinese Language Instruction in the United States

History and Implications

Der-lin Chao

Introduction

After the pioneer Italian Jesuit Matteo Ricci (1552–1610) arrived in China in 1583, the study of China and its civilizations gradually evolved into an academic field in Europe, referred to as Sinology. This term refers to Western studies of China, especially its history and people, as well as Chinese language. France was the first among Western countries to establish Chinese studies in academia, implementing courses in 1814 at Collège de France. Germany established its Chinese program at Berlin University in 1833 (Zhang 2009). In these early nineteenth-century European posts of academia, language instruction was not the focus. Most sinologists did not know how to speak Chinese nor had they ever set foot in China. Students in these programs also rarely had the opportunity to go to China. Chinese languages and dialects were viewed in the same way lay people see classical Greek or Latin—as obscure, dead languages without much real-world applicability other than scholarship.

In the late nineteenth century, two significant endeavors to promote Chinese language studies were undertaken at higher education institutions in the United States. In 1877, Samuel Wells Williams (1812–1884), a sinologist, was appointed the first professor of Chinese at Yale (Chao 2007). This was the first professorship of Chinese in the US. Meanwhile, Harvard College's 1879 'Chinese Educational Scheme' devised by Francis P. Knight (1831–1880) hired a native Chinese speaker, Ko K'un-hua (1838–1882), to teach Chinese language. While there is not yet a complete account of Williams's appointment, Ko's appointment has been studied by many researchers (Cui 1994; Fan 2002; Hanan and Adolphson 2003; Lum 2008; Xu 2014; Zhang H. 2000; Zhang X. 2002, among others). Furthermore, even though these two appointments took place around the same time, there has been very little scholarship comparing them from the pedagogical perspective. The goal of this chapter is to fill that gap. The first part will provide a historical account of these two appointments based on archival research; the second part will discuss pedagogical issues that spring from these two significant events in light of their impact on

and insights into the field of teaching Chinese today. The conclusion reached from this historical analysis will offer implications for the teaching and promotion of Chinese language and culture in the twenty-first century.

Williams' Appointment at Yale

Samuel Wells Williams, one of the first known Americans to study the Chinese language, went to China in 1832 for the American Board of Commissioners for Foreign Missions in Canton (now Guangzhou). Williams first served as co-editor with Elijah Coleman Bridgman (1801–1861) of the journal *The Chinese Repository*, and from 1848 to 1852 he was the sole editor. In this capacity he contributed over one hundred articles on an array of topics, ranging from China to China's people, to Chinese language. Williams also acquired proficiency in Japanese and from 1853 to 1854 he served as the Japanese and Chinese interpreter on the United States expedition to Japan led by Matthew C. Perry (1794–1858). In 1855 Williams was appointed Secretary and Chinese Interpreter of the Legation of the United States in China, where he worked as a diplomat for 21 years. Throughout his life, he devoted his time to writing and publishing books, including dictionaries to facilitate the study of Chinese language and culture for English speakers¹ and was, as a result, recognized as a leading sinologist. This section provides a chronological account of Williams's appointment for the Chinese professorship.

During his 43 years in China, Williams returned to the US three times, in 1844, 1860, and 1875. While in the States, Williams gave lectures about China to American audiences. The lectures Williams delivered during his first visit to the States were published in 1848 by Wiley & Putnam entitled *The Middle Kingdom*. For many decades this book was the most comprehensive and authoritative introduction to China for English readers. As China opened up, interest grew in this ancient and foreign land. Americans in academia and in religious groups contemplated the idea of adding Chinese Studies to their curricula. In 1867, Mrs E. T. Throop Martin (1818–1899),² a friend of Williams and a philanthropist, initiated the plan to establish a chair for Chinese Language and Literature at Yale and recommended Williams for this position.

Williams received an offer in 1873 from President Daniel Coit Gilman (1831–1908) of the University of California at Berkeley. President Gilman wrote to Williams on April 30, 1873 that the university received 'the endowment of a professorship of Chinese [and] Japanese . . . with the intent to help young scholars in their acquisition of those tongues . . . so that a better understanding should be established between the Eastern-Asiatic nations [and] this country'.³ At that time however, Williams was not ready to return to the US permanently; the proofreading, typesetting, and printing work of his ambitious project, *Syllabic Dictionary*, was not yet completed and required him to stay in China.

After the *Syllabic Dictionary* was published in 1874, in an 1875 correspondence, Williams consulted friends about the progress of the professorship at Yale. The major obstacle was lack of funding for the position. On September 5, 1875, James Dwight Dana (1813–1895), a Yale professor of geology and a friend of Williams's since childhood, wrote to Williams, 'I wish much we had a salary to add to a professorship for you so as to make your residence here certain'.⁴ Williams' 1876 and 1877 letters again indicate the uncertainty of the situation. In one such letter dated Feb 29, 1876 from Utica, Williams wrote to Dana:

I have no knowledge what has been done in regard to the establishment of the professorship of Chinese at Yale; and I suppose nothing can be done until there is a prospect of some fund to maintain it. However, as our excellent friend Mrs Martin asked me whether I would take the position if it were offered to me, I told her that I would do so. She said

that something to endow the chair had been promised, and if I was willing to take it, that perhaps more might be obtained to place it in a good footing. The object is certainly one that is worthy of Yale College, and creditable will it be for her to have made the effort to begin, even if the immediate results are not great.⁵

On March 15, 1876, Williams informed Dana that he had decided to end his work in China and inquired about the professorship: 'It is indeed an unpropitious time for the foundation of a new professorship as little pressing as that of Chinese, but . . . I hope the enterprise will not fail altogether', and he urged Dana to seek assistance from Mrs Martin —'if anybody can turn up stones, to forward it, Mrs Martin is the one'.⁶ After many months of no further updates, Williams decided to return to the States. In October 1876, Williams left China and returned to the States permanently, settling in New Haven.⁷

Meanwhile, the idea of bringing Chinese language education to the US was also stirring at Harvard. On May 7, 1877, Williams wrote to his friend Henry Blodget,⁸ reporting Harvard's success in securing funds for a Chinese professor while there was no such progress at Yale: 'No prospect of the professorship at present, and no scholars are propounded [at Yale]. Mr Knight is moving his friends to get funds in Boston to support a Chinese *siensang* [teacher] in Harvard for 5 years, paying him \$1800 a year for teaching all who come. The interest here would not raise 10 cents for such an end. He has obtained over \$600 a year already'.⁹

That same year, the official appointment finally came through at Yale, but Williams, contrary to his expectations, was not offered a salary. On June 30, 1877, Yale College Secretary Franklin B. Dexter wrote to Williams: 'It is my official duty to inform you of the action of the President and Fellows of Yale College, at their annual meeting held this week, in establishing the chair of Chinese Language and Literature, in connection with the graduate section of the Department of Philosophy and the Arts, and in unanimously electing you its first incumbent'.¹⁰ However, Secretary Dexter wrote, 'The Corporation are heartily sorry that at present no endowment is in their hands from which a salary can be provided'.¹¹ Williams nonetheless wrote his acceptance, 'at least provisionally', on July 13, 1877, while making it clear that he would like the position to come with a salary.¹² It was not until June 29, 1880, three years after Williams was officially appointed, that the college finally informed Williams that he would be paid starting October 1880 on a regular salary, with a fund bequeathed by William Allen Macy (1825–1859), a missionary to China and a friend of Williams. In the acceptance letter Williams noted that his 'intimate acquaintance with W Macy in China as an associate in the same mission . . . adds peculiar interest to this action'.¹³ Macy had been a student at Yale and went to China in 1825 on a mission with Williams. The endowment was especially meaningful to Williams as the professorship was supported by a colleague who shared his love of China.

Over the few years that he held the position—with no students enrolling in the course—Williams participated in faculty activities and gave lectures. During the last few years of his life, despite his poor eyesight and gradually ailing health, he worked on the final revision of *The Middle Kingdom*, which was published in 1883.¹⁴ He died in 1884 and was commemorated by the Yale president as the first professor of Chinese in the United States.

Francis P. Knight's Chinese Educational Scheme

Unlike the appointment at Yale that hired a non-Chinese sinologist, Knight's Chinese Educational Scheme was an experiment to hire a native Chinese teacher to teach the court language (Beijing dialect or Mandarin) to Harvard students to better prepare them linguistically to launch their professional lives in China. The following section will first provide a sketch of Knight and

recount this Scheme, at times using the words of Charles Eliot (1834–1926),¹⁵ Harvard president at the time, from his presidential annual reports.

In 1844 the US established diplomatic relations with China after signing the Treaty of Wangxia. Thereafter the State Department appointed as US consul merchants who lived in treaty ports and for many years allowed them to run their businesses at the same time (Kennedy 2015; Pletcher 2001). Francis P. Knight, who would go on to create Harvard's Chinese Educational Scheme, came from a Bostonian family in business and first went to China as a merchant in 1860. He was appointed American Consul at the newly established treaty port, Newchwang (today's Ying Kou, a port in Liaoning province), in 1862 where he ran Knight & Co. In 1864, Knight was also hired as consul for the consulates of France, Sweden, and Norway. In 1867, he further assumed the position of consul for the Netherlands and deputy consul for Germany and Japan.

Like many American merchants who went to China, Knight did not speak Chinese, which made his work difficult, particularly as a diplomat. He confessed to W.H. Seward (1801–1872), Secretary of State, that because there were no missionaries who could translate, he was obliged to have all his papers read by the British minister who could read Chinese.¹⁶ The lack of Chinese language skills of diplomats and consular staff members was a common problem.¹⁷ Hosea Ballou Morse (1855–1934), a Harvard graduate and Chinese Customs commissioner, reported that American consuls were being deceived by their own Chinese interpreters who would give fake permissions using the consulate stamp to permit smuggling or other illegal endeavors, and these actions were detrimental to American diplomats' reputations (Fairbank et al. 1995). In short, not having Chinese language skills put Americans at a great disadvantage when it came to employment or doing business in and with China.

The primary motivation for Knight to create the Chinese Educational Scheme, then, was to better serve America's national interests in China. Knight saw job opportunities in diplomacy and in commercial enterprises for American college graduates with Chinese language skills. The Chinese government's massive plan to build its national infrastructure using Western technologies and systems and the Imperial Maritime Customs Services, which hired foreigners, among which were several Harvard graduates, would both prove as lucrative job opportunities for Americans in China.

In February 1877, Knight wrote to Harvard's President Eliot, describing his proposal (Index to House Documents 1880). A month later he received enthusiastic support from Eliot.¹⁸ In the President's annual report of 1879, Eliot recounts the establishment of this appointment:

In 1877, Mr Francis P. Knight of Boston, who had been many years a resident of China, being for some months in this country, raised a subscription of \$8750 (mostly payable by annual instalments), for the purpose of maintaining at Cambridge, for a term of five years, a native teacher of Mandarin Chinese. Returning to China in 1878, Mr Knight endeavored to find some educated Chinese gentleman willing to go to Cambridge on this service. After having been long unsuccessful in this search, he finally, in June, 1879, engaged the services of Mr Ko Kun-hua of Ningpo, for three years from Sept. 1, 1879. Mr Ko reached Cambridge with his family punctually at that date, and has already justified in every respect the selection made by Mr Knight on behalf of the President and Fellows.¹⁹

The president then acknowledged two Harvard graduates, Edwards Bangs Drew (1843–1924) and Hosea Ballou Morse, and a British diplomat Walter C. Hillier (1849–1927), for their assistance in providing study guides for students:

Mr Knight and the Corporation have been greatly assisted in this exceptional undertaking by Mr E.B. Drew and Mr H. Ballou Morse, graduates of the College, who have been

employed for several years in the customs service of China, and by Mr Walter C. Hillier, interpreter at H. B. M. Consulate at Pekin [*sic*]. Each of these gentlemen supplied elaborate instructions for students concerning the best way of learning Mandarin; and Mr Drew, who is stationed at Ningpo, was much relied on by Mr Knight in selecting Mr Ko.²⁰

In his concluding words, the president thanked the subscribers for their donation to fund this experiment: 'The University is under obligations to all these gentlemen for their disinterested labors, and also to the subscribers who responded to Mr Knight's appeal in 1877. But for their enterprising liberality the experiment could not have been tried'.²¹

The second document regarding this experiment appeared five years later in the President's annual report of 1882. The report informed readers of the end of the appointment due to the sudden death of Ko. We learn that Knight did not have a chance to see the end of the project:

Mr Ko Kun-hua, Instructor in Chinese, died of pneumonia on the 14th of February, 1882, after a brief sickness, leaving a wife and six young children in a peculiarly helpless and desolate condition. He had been in the employ of the University since September 1, 1879, under a three years' contract made with him in China by the late Francis P. Knight, on behalf of the President and Fellows; so that his term of service had nearly expired, and he was looking forward to a return within a few months to his native land.²²

The president described Ko's character and the aftermath of his death:

He was a refined, scholarly, and conscientious man, punctilious in every observance and diligent in every duty,—a heathen gentleman who could have taught many a Christian how to live worthily and suffer patiently. His family were sent back to Shanghai by the University, and a private subscription was raised in Cambridge and Boston sufficient in amount to secure them against want until the children should be grown up and educated.²³

The president's admiration for Ko belies his own ingrained notion of non-Christians as 'heathen'.

In the same report, President Eliot writes, 'Mr Ko's two oldest sons are more likely to profit by the experiment than any other persons; for they learned some English, and imbibed some Western ideas'.²⁴ Here, the president again reveals his cultural bias, this time about the value of Ko's sons becoming Westernized as a positive result of the experiment. In that same report he also mentioned that '[o]ne student whose attainments in Chinese were remarkable went to China, but has returned out of health'. There is little more written about this mysterious student.

According to the university record, even though Ko arrived in Cambridge on time, he did not start teaching until the winter of 1880. Since Ko had to learn how to conduct himself in an American academic environment, he was fortunate that his first student was George Martin Lane (1823–1897), Pope Professor of the Latin Language and Literature at Harvard. Professor Lane became Ko's English teacher.²⁵ It is likely that Lane in many ways served as Ko's personal advisor and taught him how to navigate the strange culture of the West and the perhaps stranger one of American academia. Learning English from a capable language professor was also likely beneficial to Ko in making himself a better language teacher. In the second year, he had five students, five times as many as the first!

Drew expressed his expectations of Ko as a faculty member at Harvard in his letter to President Eliot: 'If Mr Ko, while in the U.S. writes Chinese books for the benefit of his countrymen this will be another gain out of the teachership'.²⁶ Ko compiled a collection of his poetry entitled *Chinese Poetry and Prose* in 1881 with the goal of introducing Chinese poetry and to help

Westerners learn Chinese.²⁷ Ko was very conscious of his role in representing China and wore his official rank garb in class, requiring his students to pay respect to teachers in the Chinese way (Xu 2014). As Xu (2014) argues, Ko was a Chinese culture messenger to the United States.

Ko led an active social life in Cambridge. The annual Chinese New Year party at Ko's residence was an event eagerly awaited by the locals.²⁸ The following excerpt provided by Almira L. Hayward from her article, 'A Chinese Professor', describes the last few events Ko attended.

[T]wo weeks before his death Professor Ko spent a pleasant social evening with some of his Cambridge friends. He bore his part in the conversation with ease, and was able to tell much about his country and subjects connected therewith . . . During the evening, after music from others present, Professor Ko was persuaded to sing a Chinese song. The Chinese idea of music is so different from ours that the company could hardly enjoy it, but was none the less grateful to him for giving what cost a visible effort. The following Sunday he spent with Yung Wing and Dr. Williams in Hartford, discussing with them the future of the Chinese in America, little thinking how soon his part of the work would be done. His last public appearance was at a lecture in Boston, given before the Lowell Institute by his friend, Mr Drew, for whom he read several Chinese poems in the original. On his way home he took a severe cold, which resulted in pneumonia, and he died February 14th, 1882.²⁹

It is evident that in less than three years, Ko had established himself as a professor and something of a local celebrity. To this day Ko's portrait hangs on the wall of Harvard-Yenching Library³⁰ in memory of this first native Chinese teacher at Harvard and the first in the history of Chinese language instruction in the US. In brief, these two appointments marked the beginning of an emerging model where private donors who had personal connections with China and appreciated the benefits of learning its language would provide funding for the promotion of Chinese language and culture in American higher education.

After Ko's death, it was not until 40 years later, in the spring of 1922, that Yuen Ren Chao (1892–1982) offered Chinese language again at Harvard.³¹ Meanwhile, at Yale, Williams's son Frederic Wells Williams (1857–1928) became assistant professor of Oriental history in 1893. He offered Chinese history courses to Yale students and helped found the Yale-China Association. The Chinese language was not officially offered at Yale until the philologist and Chinese language pedagogue, George Kennedy (1901–1960), joined the Yale faculty in 1937 (Ropp 2018). The first appointments at Yale and Harvard set the stage for the next wave of Chinese language study, which came from the need to train military officers during World War II. Ling (2018) documented the development of language teaching through retrospectives of American and Chinese scholars who participated in building the field of Chinese studies in the US in the twentieth century. Indeed, after the War's end, a significant number of Chinese language programs were established in American higher education institutions in the 1950s. This time such establishment was a joint effort by both American and Chinese scholars. Together, they built the foundation for today's Chinese language programs in the US (Ruan, Zhang, and Leung 2016; Yao and Zhang 2010).

Pedagogical Issues Raised in Williams' and Ko's Appointments

The enrollments generated by the two early professorships in Chinese were minimal. Williams had no students at Yale and Ko had five at Harvard. Due to the low enrollments one might suggest that these two appointments were pedagogically insignificant. However, they are path-breaking from a historical perspective. Their significance lies in the unprecedented concept that Chinese can be learned outside of China as well as in the difference in how the teachers

themselves learned Chinese: One was a non-Chinese while the other a native Chinese. As a result, new programmatic and pedagogical questions arose, such as curriculum, instruction, and teacher qualifications. The following section will discuss these topics and highlight the insights offered by these two appointments that apply to today's Chinese language teaching.

Instruction Tailored to Learners' Needs

Curriculum is the roadmap which guides students towards mastery of the target language in their given learning environment. The two appointments were made to accomplish different educational goals with different curricular designs. The Yale course was offered in a graduate program, so it was for future scholars and sinologists. The Harvard course was an undergraduate elective for both Harvard and non-Harvard students. One of the instructional questions for various student populations is how teachers help learners overcome learning difficulties by devising more effective teaching methods (Jorden and Walton 1987).

Many pioneer Western scholars who went through their own tremendous difficulties in acquiring Chinese compiled language learning materials and tools to facilitate the study of Chinese for future students. Williams authored several language textbooks and dictionaries. If he had had the chance to run the course at Yale, he might have used some of the publications he wrote as well as the other materials available at the time. Because the main goal of the course at Harvard was to teach beginners, Knight wanted students to use the textbook *A Progressive Course Designed to Assist the Student of Colloquial Chinese*, or *Yu-yen Tzu-erh Chi* in Chinese (thereafter *Colloquial Chinese*) written by Thomas Wade (1818–1895).³² As early as January 1879, before Ko was even recruited, Knight had begun to seek recommendations from Western sinologists in China on teaching methodologies for the Educational Scheme. The first person he consulted was Walter Hillier.

Walter Hillier was, according to Drew, one of the most fluent Mandarin Chinese speakers in China at the time. He was also a long-time language study supervisor for British consul staff. Hillier, upon Knight's request, wrote to Knight about his view of the best methods of teaching Chinese as well as advice on learning Chinese. His plan was for three years of study at Harvard, based on his 'eleven years of . . . superintending the studies of others [using Wade's book]'.³³ Hillier first suggested that students should acquire the proper tones and pronunciation by modeling the teacher. Hillier suggested that 'Students should avoid sounding the characters without first hearing the teacher pronounce them'.³⁴ In Hillier's view, 'It is most essential to the formation of a good accent that the teacher's pronunciation of each word should be heard as often as possible'.³⁵ Inherent in his suggestions are two notions that have found support in contemporary empirical second language acquisition research: perception precedes production and frequency-based learning is essential (Zhang and Ke 2018).

To learn characters, Hillier advised students to acquire a small dose a day, writing them with the proper stroke order and reviewing them regularly, an act still essential to the learning of written Chinese, as rote as it may be. He described in detail how to use 'tickets' (flashcards) to study, self-assess, and review characters. He also suggested that students build their language skills step by step: 'First the single character, then two together, then three together, and so on until the whole sentence is read [aloud] by teacher and then by the student'.³⁶ Hillier also emphasized: 'This process cannot be repeated too often. As the student advances he should try and form new sentences out of the characters he knows and write them down for the teacher's correction'.³⁷ Hillier described the laborious process of gaining proficiency thus: 'There is no royal road to Chinese, and from first to last the study is a hard one. In the earlier stages of the study the secret of success . . . lies in repetition and a rigid adherence to a hard and fast line'.³⁸ Finding joy, not just the devil, in the details is still paramount to the study of Mandarin.

In addition to Hillier, Drew submitted to President Eliot his ‘*Memorandum on the Study of Chinese Colloquial under Mr Ko, at Harvard University*’.³⁹ In this ‘*Memorandum*’, he urged both teacher and students to read carefully the introduction in the Wade textbook on how to acquire characters, tones, and grammar (Wade and Hillier 1886). Drew’s instructions also corresponded to Hillier’s plan to include daily instruction with the class on the ‘peculiarities’ in Chinese, that is, tones, radical characters, and conversation, as well as two hours of daily study without the teacher. Drew also stressed that ‘for the first six months the student should have the teacher studying aloud with him all he can’.⁴⁰ He estimated that a Harvard student needed to study from the second half of junior year to the end of senior year to complete Wade’s *Colloquial Chinese*. H.B. Morse, another Harvard alum, prepared ‘*Hints to the Student of Chinese*’ for the course.⁴¹ In his piece, he stated that the most important step was to learn from the native Chinese teacher *viva voce*, to ask the teacher to correct any errors of intonation and to acquire radicals and other character components.

Similar suggestions also appeared in *The Harvard Register*, a monthly periodical edited and published by Moses King (1853–1909), who was a Harvard student at the time (King 1880). This piece written in 1880 supported the foundation of Chinese in the US:

The student before proceeding to a practical acquaintance with the language should first understand its *peculiarities* [emphasis mine]. For this purpose he must learn thoroughly the radicals,—by no means a difficult task,—for they constitute the key to the formation of the written characters. He must then learn to distinguish the few ‘tones,’ on which depend the sounds of the whole spoken language. These ‘tones’ aid the ear to detect the differences of sound, and to accustom itself to the intonations of spoken words generally; and it is by their aid that one can get at the spirit of this peculiar language. He should also memorize a number of words and phrases. So much of this must be worked out by one’s self that it can be done as well, if not better, at home.⁴²

A striking pedagogical observation from reading these suggestions written by pioneers in the nineteenth century is that they all focus on helping beginners acquiring the ‘peculiarities’ of Chinese that do not exist in English. The excerpt below shows that this method worked:

The pupil in Chinese, who was under Professor Ko at Harvard only from November to May, acquired during that time, although he had but one recitation a week, a knowledge of the radicals, the ‘tones,’ read his lessons in Chinese, and could understand considerable in conversation. With this foundation, he has left for China to engage in business.⁴³

Note that the learning of ‘peculiarities’ were identified to be the ‘foundation’ to achieve functional proficiency, a goal set for this course, before students would go to work and do further language study in China. The preliminary success of this pilot course signaled that American students could learn Chinese outside of China as a foreign language under the instruction of at least a native Chinese teacher in an American university setting.

Perry Link (2005), a Harvard graduate who studied Chinese in the 1960s and became a professor of modern Chinese literature and language, expressed his concerns about the lack of attention in the field to those ‘peculiarities’, especially in the teaching of tones:

One fashionable theory in applied linguistics in recent years has held that pronunciation naturally ‘converges’ on a native-speaker model once a second-language learner enters a native-speaker environment. This theory . . . is grounded in European-language experience and does not apply well to [adult] second-language learning of Chinese.⁴⁴

Link, nearly one hundred years later, named what the sinologists of the nineteenth century seemed to already know: that the special features of Chinese cannot be learned simply through intuition or exposure; they require meticulous and explicit instruction and conscientious and laborious learning on the parts of both teachers and students at the beginning level.

Link further propounded his view of explicit tonal instruction by refuting the assumption of natural tonal development in adult learners:

I suspect that this difference between European-language learning and Chinese-language learning comes from the fact that tones in Chinese are phonemic distinctions. The human brain needs to conceive tones as phonemes before any natural ‘drift’ in their direction becomes possible as a result of immersion in a native-speaker environment. And since Western languages do not use intonation for phonemic purpose, this is precisely why we Chinese teachers need to labor so hard to implant the concept in our students’ minds. But whether or not my hypothesis about the cause of the problem is true, the empirical fact itself is beyond doubt: the native speaker environment does not ‘automatically’ make toneless Chinese ‘drift’ in the direction of correct tones. The supposition that it does, in my view, is one of the most serious and widespread errors in Chinese language teaching today.⁴⁵

Reflecting on the challenges in teaching Chinese as a foreign language, Bisong Lü (1935–2017), a leading figure in Chinese pedagogy, similarly pointed out that the reason teaching Chinese had not had substantial breakthroughs is because for decades the field relied on foreign-language teaching methods that were developed for teaching and learning European languages, especially English. However, the field overlooked the fact that Chinese has specific linguistic characteristics that are different from European languages; therefore, these methods are not effective in teaching Chinese. Lü therefore called for developing a Chinese pedagogy framework that addresses the special characteristics of the Chinese language, then and only then, he said, can we improve the effectiveness in teaching Chinese (Lü 2005).

Students in elementary Chinese classrooms in the US today are facing the same kinds of the linguistic challenges in the acquisition of tones and characters as the pioneer students did in the nineteenth century. According to Wen (1997, 2011), inadequate teaching at the beginning level results in a high attrition rate in language programs after beginning Chinese and as a result, very few students reach advanced proficiency. It is clear that the field still needs empirically sound methods to improve the teaching of the most basic and yet most challenging aspects of Chinese.

Language Teacher Qualifications

A successful language program needs qualified teachers who have a thorough understanding of the program goals in order to organize instructional activities and help students reach those goals. Prior to these two historic appointments, Americans could only study Chinese in China where they would hire local natives to be their informants in a quest to discover the sounds, words, and structures of the language. Although these informants were referred to as *siensang* (teachers), teaching Chinese was not yet a profession. Drew described how Mandarin Chinese would be studied in China with a *siensang*:

The student generally takes Wade’s books [*Yu-yen Tzu-erh Chi* by Thomas Wade] as the basis; he lives in Peking; he engages a [native Chinese] teacher, who is his special tool for attaining the end. The teacher is at the student’s disposal all day and a part of the evening, if the student has the physical strength and the perseverance to work so hard. The teacher knows

not a word of the student's mother tongue; and the student knows no Chinese. They sit down at the beginning of Wade: the teacher pronounces, the student tries to imitate him. At first, the learner's vocal organs are not able to utter the novel sounds he hears, and his ear is unable to detect the famous distinctions of the 'four tones.' But day by day he acquires a little; and he will succeed at last . . . the laborious, humdrum, tiresome, repetitions . . . are absolutely essential.⁴⁶

Hillier warned students in the proposed Harvard course that they should not expect the Chinese teacher to carry the same level of qualifications as their instructors in other foreign languages at Harvard because 'I have never yet met a Chinese who was qualified to assume such a position. It must be remembered that he professes to teach his own language, the colloquial part of which he has acquired intuitively, with no knowledge of any other language whatever. He cannot therefore appreciate the difference between the construction, sounds, or other peculiarities of his own language and that of other countries, nor can he tell where to begin, never having had occasion to learn [emphasis original] a new tongue himself'.⁴⁷ Hillier concluded that Harvard students needed to be autonomous learners (Du 2013). He wrote, 'The pupil must therefore lead the tutor, who, for some time at least, is, or should be, a mere automaton in his hands'.⁴⁸ Hillier was prescient in training students to become responsible for their own learning simply because teachers did not have the skills, methods, or strategies for helping learners overcome linguistic challenges specific to the Chinese language.

In the context of Yale, if Williams had taught his Chinese language course, he would have been teaching without Chinese teaching assistants, a less ideal instructional model than the one in China, where Western students could practice with native Chinese teachers and use Chinese regularly to meet the needs of everyday life. Nowhere within the correspondence regarding the settling of Williams' appointment at Yale, is there any practical discussion about course design or instructional materials. The lack of discussion in these areas indicates that the university assumed that Williams, as a sinologist and arguably the top authority in the US on the Chinese language and civilization at the time, would instinctually know how to teach Chinese in the US. Such teaching in the US, however, would likely pose a different set of challenges for a non-native Chinese teacher due to the lack of linguistic environment whereby students could use the target language. In the nineteenth century it was not easy to find native Chinese teaching assistants; in fact, the teacher himself might gradually lose his own Chinese language fluency.

After more Westerners started mastering the Chinese language, the instructional model that evolved consisted of having a non-native acting as the master teacher who would design curriculum and learning goals for students, explain vocabulary and grammar usage, and answer students' questions in the students' native language, alongside Chinese teachers/tutors who would practice Chinese as much as possible with the students. This team-teaching arrangement where non-native (Williams) and native (Ko) speakers could work together would have been the ideal instructional model for Harvard's Scheme, according to Robert Hart (1835–1911), the Inspector General of Chinese Imperial Customs and a highly influential Westerner in China.⁴⁹ However, since Williams had been appointed at Yale, this arrangement was not an option. Yet Knight's Scheme to hire a native speaker of Chinese was not a random decision. He argued that since the course was offered in the US, and not China, a native Chinese teacher could provide authentic models in Chinese to prepare students for interacting with Chinese when they arrive in China. Even though native teachers were not professionally trained, Knight saw the potential of Ko as a native teaching Chinese. He also believed that a native Chinese teacher with guidance on the best practices in language teaching could become a very effective teacher. Ko's appointment thus

marked the beginning of, and the first attempt at, educating a native Chinese teacher to become a foreign-language teaching professional.

All this said, Hart also had concerns about hiring a native Chinese to teach at Harvard, because in his view, knowing how to speak Chinese does not automatically qualify a native Chinese to be a language teacher—even if the native teacher candidate is a scholar. Hart rightfully pointed out that the lack of qualifications of native teachers at that time had less to do with their scholarship than with their understanding of the profession as a language teacher. To Hart, a qualified candidate should have ‘an idea of what the foreigner wishes to learn, and . . . the patience and the method that will enable him to teach . . . [and] the dialect he can teach [should be] the dialect the individual student will desire to learn . . .’⁵⁰ Hart further noted that it is not a good idea to hire a Chinese literati to be a language teacher because no such person would tolerate ‘work involving the dreariest and most monotonous reiteration in the case of every individual pupil during several hours a day for several years!’⁵¹ Above all, Hart thought a candidate equipped with effective teaching methods was essential. He concluded that ‘I should on the whole expect better results from men studying in America under Dr. Williams without a Chinese assistant, than from their studying there under an unassisted and unsupervised Chinese: for with the Chinaman, it will be a meaningless scramble, while, with Dr. Williams, there would have been method and measure’.⁵² On the surface Hart’s comments on Chinese teachers may sound indelicate and biased; however, Hart was prescient in evaluating the Scheme from the learners’ language learning perspective. His underlying concerns about teacher qualifications as a profession in relation to the Scheme’s language learning environment and resources are still relevant today.

Goh (2017) argues that non-native teachers’ understanding of the native language paired with their comprehension of the learners’ culture can provide valuable insights in helping the field understand how Chinese is acquired. Increasing the field’s understanding of Chinese language acquisition was an effort made in hopes of bettering the design of effective teaching materials and methods from the perspective of second language learners while elucidating nuances between the native language and the target language. Their understanding of learners’ perspectives also led Liu and Fu (2018) in their qualitative study where they interviewed six non-native Chinese teachers to conclude that the field needs to cultivate more non-native teachers who serve as role models for learners. The two historic appointments nonetheless reveal the importance of establishing professionalism for both native and non-native teachers. It is true that native and non-native teachers bring different qualities to the table. A more crucial issue however, as eloquently demonstrated by Ko’s case, is that teachers, regardless of their background, should pursue ongoing professional development to cultivate their qualifications to become more effective and competent language teaching professionals. By pursuing ongoing professional development, teachers can better meet their students’ needs in the contemporary context of teaching and learning Chinese as a foreign language (McDonald 2011).

Conclusion: Design of 21st Century Language Program

We mentioned earlier that Yale’s course was offered in a graduate program which was designed to train students to become sinologists. Unlike the course at Yale, the Harvard course focused on applicability, especially for future professionals seeking work in China. Two elements distinguished it from the Yale course: (1) it linked language learning with career and proficiency goals as soon as students embarked on their language learning endeavor, and (2) solid domestic training in the language accompanied training toward an undergraduate degree in a chosen professional domain (Bettencourt 2012). Students would go abroad for more advanced language

study and work in their professional domain at the same time, much like the current Flagship programs in the United States.

Drew wrote in a letter to Eliot supporting Knight's career-oriented language learning plan: 'That inducements of a tangible and immediate nature should be found to tempt men to study Chinese—this is the vital breath which will make the same scheme live'.⁵³ He explained that, 'the pleasure [in the acquisition of Chinese] affords to keep any but a most exceptional human being up to the work for more than three months, unless he works for a definite object, with a definite appointment secured to him beforehand'.⁵⁴ The insight from Drew's comments is consistent with current motivation theories of second language learning (e.g. Chambers 1999; Dornyei 2005), namely that adult language learners will be more motivated and therefore more likely to sustain the tedious language learning process, if language study is connected to a purpose, and in particular a professional pursuit.

In establishing a new language program for college students, especially for a language that is not commonly known to potential learners, merely offering language courses is not enough to stimulate their initial interest nor will it sustain any sort of long-term motivation. Language programs must help students visualize a clear pathway with set goals at each learning stage. Students should be able to articulate for themselves the purpose for learning the language and justify their investment in time and effort as it relates to their overall college education. To this end, a college language program design that links language study to a real purpose maximizes the value of language programs (Leaver and Shekhtman 2002). Language study content that is connected with students' professional domain choices (usually their majors) would better motivate students to make a commitment to study the language for four years in college and beyond (Wen 1997; Yang 2003).

Today's college language programs also can gain insights from the design of Knight's Scheme that combines domestic and abroad training where students receive three years of domestic training then go to China for language, culture, and work immersion. There is a wealth of research regarding the effects of study abroad when it comes to learning Chinese as a second language (Kubler 1997; Tseng 2006; Kim, Baker-Smemoe and Westover 2015; Kinginger, Wu and Lee 2018). In particular, two research findings concerning Flagship programs suggest that if language learners go abroad after they achieve intermediate-high level proficiency and stay abroad for an extended period of time (a semester or a year), there are greater outcomes in language and culture acquisition than if they had stayed in their home country (Davidson 2010). Study abroad designed for linguistic, academic, and cultural immersion is especially beneficial to the development of superior proficiency (Jing-Schmidt, Zhang and Chen 2016).

The Language Flagship initiative⁵⁵ in the US has a similar design to Knight's Scheme for American college students. Flagship training includes domestic and abroad components. Flagship domestic programs provide quality language instruction to help students reach advanced proficiency in the target language. This program design allows students to study the target language alongside other academic pursuits. Flagship students who meet the benchmarks may apply to study and work abroad for a full year in a Flagship Capstone program. At Capstone, students receive rigorous language training, culture immersion and internship work related to their professional domain, in the target language. The goal of Flagship is to achieve professional-level language proficiency, defined as Superior level based on the American Council on the Teaching of Foreign Languages proficiency scale, which is Level C for The Common European Framework of Reference for Languages.⁵⁶

Part of the original impetus for Knight to create the Harvard's Scheme was to better serve American national interests in China because at the same time, learners benefit when they have a tangible purpose (be it an occupation, or simply one's love for the language) that encourages

them to develop advanced language skills. In a sense, the program design of the short-lived Harvard educational scheme has come to fruition in The Language Flagship model. If today's college language programs hope to attract, motivate, and promote the enormous potential of foreign language learning the adoption of this model is certainly worth consideration (Nugent and Slater 2016).

Thanks to the accumulation of research findings in applied linguistics, second language acquisition, cognitive psychology and neuroscience, paired with the development of technologies designed to facilitate language teaching and learning, many previously unimaginable teaching and learning resources are now available to us. However, the fundamental issues in teaching and learning Chinese that were of concern in the nineteenth century with regard to curricula, instruction and teacher qualifications are still relevant today. In addition to improving these aspects of Chinese language programs, due to the dwindling enrollment of Chinese language learners, it is now more important than ever to reflect on the goals and purposes of each program design while setting high the language learning standards which make Chinese programs competitive. Once the directions and standards are set, programs can better work out implementation plans and assess results to optimize teaching and learning.

Converging experiences of the nineteenth century Harvard educational scheme and the twenty-first century Flagship program indicate that language programs must link language study with students' goals if they hope to use and live the language while studying abroad. In concrete terms, this requires a curriculum which addresses students' learning needs in accordance with specific proficiency targets that need to be achieved at each stage. Having a plan to regularly assess students' proficiency helps both teachers and students reach the most advanced learning targets. By describing the first blueprint of teaching Chinese as a foreign language to American college students in the nineteenth century, this chapter is intended to be instructive to our efforts in promoting US Chinese language programs that effectively prepare American college graduates for today's interconnected world.

Notes

- 1 Williams published several language learning aids: *Easy Lessons in Chinese* (1842), *English and Chinese Vocabulary in the Court Dialect* (1844), *A Tonic Dictionary of the Chinese Language in the Canton Dialect* (1856), and *A Syllabic Dictionary of the Chinese Language* (1874).
- 2 Born in Utica, New York, Mrs E.T. Throop Martin (Cornelia Williams Martin) was the wife of Enos Thompson Throop Martin (1808–1883), the governor of New York from 1830 to 1833. A philanthropist and strong supporter of missionary enterprise to China, Japan, India, and the Pacific Islands, Mrs Throop Martin donated the first set of movable font for Chinese characters to Williams for his printing needs.
- 3 Williams Papers: Letter from Gilman to Williams on April 30, 1873.
- 4 Ibid. Letter from Dana to Williams on September 5, 1875.
- 5 Ibid. Letter from Williams to Dana on February 29, 1876.
- 6 Ibid. Letter from Williams to Dana on March 15, 1876.
- 7 Ibid. Letter on February 2, 1876 from Hamilton Fish to Williams. While inquiring about the possibilities of the position at Yale, Williams worked on a backup plan to obtain a leave of absence from the State Department so if the professorship did not work out he could return to his post in China. The State Department response was negative. In a February 2, 1876 letter, US Secretary of State Hamilton Fish (1808–1893) stated that they could not grant Williams another leave and that they would appoint a new interpreter to replace him.
- 8 Henry Blodget (1825–1903) was a missionary in Peking and a good friend of Williams. (Williams spelled the last name as Blodgett.)
- 9 Williams Papers: Letter from Williams to Blodget on May 7, 1877.
- 10 Ibid. Letter from Dexter to Williams on June 30, 1877.
- 11 Ibid.

- 12 Ibid. Letter from Williams to Dexter on June 13, 1877.
- 13 Ibid. Letter from Dexter to Williams with Williams' acceptance on June 29, 1880.
- 14 Throughout these years Williams continued to care about China affairs. He published *Chinese Immigration* in 1878 to make arguments against the Chinese Exclusion Act. Yale's president and faculty thus wrote petitions to the Congress in protest of the Chinese Exclusion Act. Williams donated money and urged others to do so to help the Northern Chinese Famine that occurred during 1876–1879.
- 15 Charles Eliot (1834–1926) became Harvard's president in 1869 and served for 40 years until 1909. At the time, Harvard was an all-men's college and the focus of learning was classics and theology. Eliot wanted to expand its classical curriculum to an education that offered a variety of courses, including world languages, sciences, politics, and economics. He hired faculty worldwide and recruited the best young male students across the country. He also held high standards for entrance and graduation requirements and denounced the old recitation learning methods, focusing instead on performance-based instruction.
- 16 Francis P. Knight to W. H. Seward. September 10, 1868. No. 5, US Consular Despatches, Newchwang, 1.
- 17 In the letter on March 12, 1869 to Mr Nye, Williams indicated that 'We have not a single consul (except the one in Tientsin) who can speak an idiomatic sentence in Chinese, and our government has no idea of educating any, or of paying aught for bringing forward students of the language'. See Frederick Williams (1889: 377).
- 18 Ko Kun-hua Papers: Eliot to Knight on March 10, 1877.
- 19 Harvard President Annual Reports (1878–1879:46)
- 20 Ibid.
- 21 Ibid.
- 22 Ibid.
- 23 Ibid. (1881–1882:3)
- 24 Ibid. (1881–1882:46–47)
- 25 Miss Fanny W. Bowen gave Ko English instruction in reading the Bible for two years. See Hayward (1882).
- 26 Ko Kun-hua Papers: Letter from Drew to Eliot, July 28, 1879.
- 27 The Chinese title of this book is 華質英文. The book has several poems from Ko's earlier poetry collection and eleven poems written after he came to the United States.
- 28 *New York Times*. February 15, 1882. 'The Chinese Professor Dead. Death of Prof Ko Kun Hua, of Harvard – Results of his work here'.
- 29 Almira Hayward 'A Chinese Professor' in *Our Continent* (October 1882: 464).
- 30 The books that Ko brought to Harvard to support the Chinese language course were the first collection of the Harvard-Yenching Library.
- 31 'History of the Department: A brief history of EALC and Asian studies at Harvard 1920–1930'. Retrieved on July 27, 2018 from <https://ealc.fas.harvard.edu/1920-1930>.
- 32 The book *Yu-yen Tzu-erh Chi*, was written by Thomas Wade (1818–1895), published in 1867. It has a volume for studying colloquial Chinese (Beijing court dialect), referred to as *Colloquial Chinese*, and a volume entitled *Wen-chien Tzu-erh Chi*, for studying documents written by the officials of China. Thomas Wade was a famous British missionary, diplomat, and sinologist who became in 1888 the first Chinese professor at Cambridge University. Thomas Wade developed the Wade-Giles Romanization system with Herbert Giles, popular in the nineteenth century.
- 33 Ko Kun-hua Papers: Hillier to Knight, January 28, 1879.
- 34 Ibid.
- 35 Ibid.
- 36 Ibid.
- 37 Ibid.
- 38 Ibid.
- 39 Ibid. Drew to Eliot, July 28, 1879. The 'Memorandum' was written on separate pages but was sent along with the letter.
- 40 Ibid.
- 41 Ibid. 'The Hints to the Student of Chinese' was included in the letter from Morse to Knight, September 2, 1879.
- 42 'Chinese at Harvard' in *The Harvard Register* (1880:161).
- 43 *The Harvard Register* (1880:166).
- 44 Link (2005: 29) in *Reflecting on the Future of Chinese Language Pedagogy*.

- 45 Ibid. (2005: 29–30).
- 46 Ko Kun-hua Papers: Letter from Drew to Eliot, July 28, 1879.
- 47 Ko Kun-hua Papers: Letter from Hillier to Knight, January 28, 1879.
- 48 Ibid.
- 49 Ko Kun-hua Papers: Letter from Hart to Knight, August 4, 1879.
- 50 For Americans to work in China in the nineteenth century, knowing what career path they were seeking before studying Chinese was important because it would determine the choice of the dialect (spoken language) they should learn. At that time, China did not have an official language and different dialects were spoken in treaty ports. Generally speaking, the Beijing dialect was useful for work at the consulate or the Imperial Customs Service; for merchants and missionaries, they should study the dialect of their residence.
- 51 Ko Kun-hua Papers: Letter from Hart to Knight, August 4, 1879.
- 52 Ibid.
- 53 Ko Kun-hua Papers: Letter from Drew to Eliot, July 28, 1879.
- 54 Ibid.
- 55 The Language Flagship (www.thelanguageflagship.org) is a program in National Security Education Program (NSEP) in the US. Currently there are 12 Chinese Flagship programs funded by NSEP.
- 56 Nowadays many college language programs only offer lower-level Chinese. If professional proficiency is required for using Chinese in the workplace, college Chinese language programs must design four-year curricula for their students to achieve superior-level proficiency before they graduate.

References

English References

- Annual Reports of the President and Treasurer of Harvard College 1878–79*. Cambridge: University Press: John Wilson and Son, 1880.
- Annual Reports of the President and Treasurer of Harvard College 1881–82*. Cambridge: University Press: John Wilson and Son, 1882.
- Bettencourt, M. (2012) ‘Languages across the curriculum’. *Multicultural Education* 19(1): 57–58.
- Chambers, G. N. (1999) *Motivating Language Learners*. Clevedon, UK: Multilingual Matters.
- Chao, D. (2007) ‘Samuel Wells Williams (1812–1884): A pioneer student and a scholar of Chinese’. *The Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 42(1): 1–26.
- Davidson, D. (2010) ‘Study abroad: When, how long, and with what results? New data from the Russian front’. *Foreign Language Annals* 43(1): 6–26.
- Dornyei, Z. (2005) *The Psychology of the Language Learner*. Mahwah, NJ: Lawrence Erlbaum.
- Du, F. (2013) ‘Student perspectives of self-directed language learning: Implications for teaching and research’. *International Journal for the Scholarship of Teaching and Learning* 7(2): Article 4.
- Fairbank, J. K., Coolidge, M. H. and Smith, R. J. (1995) *H.B. Morse, Customs Commissioner and Historian of China*. Lexington: University Press of Kentucky.
- Goh, Y. (2017) *Teaching Chinese as an International Language: A Singapore Perspective*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Hanan, P. and Adolphson, M. S. (2003) *Treasures of the Yenching: Seventy-Fifth Anniversary of the Harvard-Yenching Library; Exhibition Catalogue*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard-Yenching Library, distributed by the Chinese University Press.
- Hayward, A. (1882) ‘A Chinese professor’. *Our Continent*, October 18, 1882: 463–466.
- Index to the Executive Documents of the House of Representatives for the Second Session of the Forty-Sixth Congress, 1879–’80 in 26 Volumes. Washington: Government Printing Office 1880.
- Jing-Schmidt, Z., Zhang, Z. and Chen, J.-Y. (2016) ‘Identity development in the ancestral homeland: A Chinese heritage perspective’. *The Modern Language Journal* 100(4): 797–812.
- Jorden, E. H. and Walton, A. R. (1987) ‘Truly foreign languages: Instructional challenges’. *Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 490: 110–124.
- Kennedy, C. S. (2015) *The American Consul: A history of the United States Consular Service, 1776–1914*. Washington, DC: New Academia Publishing.

- Kim, Dewey, Baker-Smemoe, Ring and Westover, Eggett. (2015) 'L2 development during study abroad in China'. *System* 55: 123–133.
- King, Moses (ed.) (1880) *The Harvard Register (Volumes 1 and II)*. Cambridge, MA: Moses King.
- Kinginger, C., Wu, Q. and Lee, S.-H. (2018) 'Chinese language acquisition in study abroad contexts'. In C. Ke (ed.), *The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Second Language Acquisition*, 302–317. New York: Routledge.
- Kubler, Neil. (1997) 'Study abroad as an integral part of the Chinese language curriculum'. *The Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association* 32(3): 15–30.
- Leaver, B. L. and Shekhtman, B. (eds.) (2002) 'Principles and practices in teaching Superior-level language skills: Not just more of the same'. In *Developing Professional-Level Language Proficiency*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Ling, V. (ed.) (2018) *The Field of Chinese Language Education in the U.S.: A Retrospective of the 20th Century*. London and New York: Routledge Taylor & Francis Group.
- Link, P. (2005) 'On the relations of genetics, marriage, and oral ability in Mandarin'. In C. Li, Y. Chen and H. Liang (eds.), *Reflecting on the Future of Chinese Language Pedagogy: Honoring the 40-year Distinguished Career of Professor George Chih-ch'ao Chao*. Taipei: Shida Shuyuan.
- Liu, S. and Wang, F. (2018) 'A qualitative study on learning trajectories of non-native Chinese instructors as successful Chinese language learners'. *Asian-Pacific Journal of Second and Foreign Language Education* 3: 2. Retrieved on August 29, 2018 from <https://doi.org/10.1186/s40862-018-0043-5>.
- Lum, R. (2008) 'Ko K'un-hua: Brief life of Harvard's first Chinese instructor, 1838–1882'. *Harvard Magazine* (March–April 2008): 44–45.
- McDonald, E. (2011) *Learning Chinese, Turning Chinese: Challenges to Becoming Sinophone in a Globalised World*. London and New York: Routledge Taylor & Francis Group.
- New York Times, February 15, 1882. 'The Chinese professor dead. Death of Prof Ko Kun Hua, of Harvard—Results of his work here'. Retrieved on July 30, 2018 from www.nytimes.com/1882/02/15/archives/the-chinese-professor-dead-death-of-prof-ko-kun-hua-of-harvard.html.
- Nugent, M. and Slater, R. (2016) 'The language flagship: Creating expectations and opportunities for professional-level language learning in undergraduate education'. In Dianna Murphy and Karen Evans-Romaine (eds.), *The U.S. Language Flagship Program: Professional Competence in a Second Language by Graduation*, 1–9. Bristol: Multilingual Matters.
- Pletcher, D. M. (2001) *The Diplomacy of Involvement-American Economic Expansion across the Pacific, 1784–1900*. Columbia: University of Missouri Press.
- Ropp, Paul S. (2018) 'Pioneering Chinese studies in the era before Chinese language curriculum existed in America academia'. In Vivian Ling (ed.), *The Field of Chinese Language Education in the U.S.: A Retrospective of the 20th Century*, 6. London and New York: Routledge Taylor & Francis Group.
- Ruan, J., Zhang, J. and Leung, C. B. (eds.) (2016) *Chinese Language Education in the United States*. Switzerland: Springer International Publishing.
- Tseng, M. (2006) 'Language gains in study abroad and at home contexts'. *The Journal of Language Teachers Association* 41(1): 57–78.
- Wade, T. F. and Hillier, Walter Caine. (1886) *Yu-yen tzu-erh chi: A Progressive Course Designed to Assist the Student of Colloquial Chinese as Spoken in the Capital and the Metropolitan Department*. Shanghai: Inspectorate General of Customs.
- Wen, X. (1997) 'Motivation and language learning with students of Chinese'. *Foreign Language Annals* 30(2): 235–245.
- Williams, Frederick Wells. (1889) *The Life and Letters of Samuel Wells Williams, LL.D., Missionary, Diplomatist, Sinologue*. New York: G. P. Putnam's Sons Press.
- Xu, G. (2014) *Chinese and Americans: A Shared History*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- Yang, J. S. R. (2003) 'Motivational orientations and selected learners variables of East Asian language learners in the United States'. *Foreign Language Annals* 36(1): 44–56.
- Zhang, T. and Chuanren Ke. (2018) 'Research on L2 Chinese character acquisition'. In Chuanren Ke (ed.), *The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Second Language Acquisition*, 103–133. New York: Routledge.

Archival Sources

Harvard University Archives, Cambridge, Massachusetts: HUG 380: UAI. 20.877: Ko, Kun-hua.
Harvard-Yenching Library, Harvard University, Cambridge, Massachusetts: Ko Kun-Hua Collections.
Manuscripts and Archives, Yale University Library, New Haven, Connecticut: Samuel Wells Williams Family Papers.
Williams Papers: Group 547, series II, box 11, folder, Ko Kun-hua.

Chinese References

- Cui, S. 崔颂人 (1994) ‘美国汉语教学的先驱—戈鲲化’ (A pioneer of teaching Chinese in the United States—Ko Kun-hua). 世界汉语教学 (Chinese Teaching in the World) 1994(3): 77–80.
- Fan, S. 樊书华 (2002) ‘戴德方案与哈佛大学的汉学起源’ (Francis Knight scheme and the origins of Sinology at Harvard). In Liu Haiping 刘海平, (ed.), 文明对话：本土知识的全球意义 (Dialogue of Civilizations: Global Significance of Local Knowledge), 480–506. Shanghai: 上海外语教育出版社 (Shanghai Foreign Language Education Press).
- Lü, B. 吕必松 (2005) 语言教育与对外汉语教学 (Language Education and Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language). Beijing: 外语教学与研究出版社 (Foreign Language Teaching and Research Press).
- Wen, X. 温晓虹 (2011) ‘美国中文教学的挑战与对应策略’ (Challenges and changes in teaching Chinese as a second language in the USA). 世界汉语教学 (Chinese Teaching in the World) 2011(4): 538–553.
- Yao, D. and Zhang, G. 姚道中和 张光天 (2010) ‘美国汉语教学历史回顾与现状’ (History and current status of Chinese instruction in the US). Retrieved on July 30, 2018 from <https://scholarspace.manoa.hawaii.edu/bitstream/10125/23236/1/Chineselanguage.pdf>.
- Zhang, H. 张宏生 (ed.) (2000) 戈鲲化集 (Collections of Ko Kun-hua). Nanjing: 江苏古籍出版社 (Jiangsu Ancient Book Publishing House).
- Zhang, X. 张西平 (2002) ‘明清时期的汉语教学概况’ (A survey of Chinese teaching in Ming and Qing dynasties). 世界汉语教学 (Chinese Teaching in the World) 2002(1): 93–103.
- Zhang, X. 张西平 (ed.) (2009) 世界汉语教学史 (History of World Mandarin Education). Beijing: 商务印书馆 (The Commercial Press).

Teaching Chinese as a Heritage Language

Chang Pu

Introduction

Chinese language (including Mandarin, Cantonese, and other varieties) is the most spoken language in the world (McCarthy 2018). It is also ranked as one of the top 10 main languages other than English spoken in the United States (US Census 2011), Canada (Statistics Canada 2011), and the United Kingdom (UK Census 2011). However, we also know from previous research (e.g. Li 1994) that children of Chinese-speaking families, in an English-dominant society, typically become English dominant once they start formal schooling. Although Chinese immigrant parents understand proficiency in English is crucial for increasing their children's social mobility and achieving success in an English-dominant society, missing personal, familial, and cultural connections with the heritage language also becomes a concern among Chinese immigrant families and communities. In recent years, Chinese language has been recognized as strategically important in language education, due to its economic, social, cultural, and political significance and the need for national security, diplomacy, law enforcement, intelligence communities, and cultural understanding in the world. Hence, teaching and learning Chinese as a heritage language (CHL) is 'significant on many levels for individual learners, their families, the community, the language teaching profession, and the society and nation at large' (Xiang 2016: 168).

Taking the United States as an example, as reported in Wang's (1996) study, there were 634 schools and 82,675 students enrolled in community-based Chinese heritage language schools nationwide. In 2005 over 140,000 students enrolled in over 1,000 community-based CHL schools (McGinnis 2005). Wang (2009) reported the numbers increased to 180,000 students in over 1,205 CHL schools. According to the National Council of Associations of Chinese Language Schools and the Chinese School Association in the United States, approximately 200,000 students enrolled in CHL schools in 2014 (Wen and Li 2016). The numbers of CHL learners become even larger if we add CHL students who are attending Chinese language programs at the elementary, middle grade, secondary, and postsecondary levels, as well as Chinese-English dual-language programs. CHL becomes one of the major heritage languages that has been studied in the field of heritage language education.

This chapter provides an overview of teaching CHL based on reviews of CHL research mainly conducted in North America and the United Kingdom in the past two decades through database

searches such as ProQuest, EBSCO, and JSTOR. Keywords of ‘Chinese heritage language’, ‘teaching Chinese heritage language’, and ‘Chinese language schools’ were used. Reports published by leading associations/organizations that promote heritage language education, such as the Center for Applied Linguistics and National Heritage Language Resource Center (NHLRC), were also included. Moreover, it includes the author’s over 10 years of practical and research experiences with local CHL communities. The chapter discusses different types of Chinese language programs that serve CHL learners. To engage all those interested in teaching, learning, and researching CHL, this chapter also explores issues with the CHL teaching force, CHL learners, CHL curriculum, instructional practices, and assessments. Finally, the chapter discusses future prospects of CHL programs, challenges associated with teaching CHL, and recommendations for establishing sustainable teaching Chinese as a heritage language programs in an English-dominant society.

It is important to note that ‘Chinese’ in this chapter refers to Mandarin Chinese since Mandarin Chinese is the most studied Chinese language variation in Chinese language programs. Also, this chapter mainly focuses on discussing current status of teaching Chinese as a heritage language across various domains as it is occurred; however, it is important to note that although not discussed in this chapter, home is another crucial setting of learning and maintaining CHL.

Defining CHL Learners

The term ‘heritage language’ (HL) appeared nearly two decades ago in Canada and referred to languages other than the official languages (English and French) or indigenous languages (Cummins 1992), which is widely used in the US. In recent years, the term ‘international languages’ becomes more prevalent in Canada (Ricento 2015). In the UK, ‘community language’ instead is the most commonly used term (Sneddon 2017). In this chapter, the term ‘heritage language’ is used across varied settings/locations to differentiate itself from foreign language or second language.

An HL learner is an individual ‘who is raised in a home where a non-English language is spoken, who speaks or merely understands the heritage language, and who is to some degree bilingual in English and the heritage language’ (Valdés 2000: 1). An HL learner is ‘a person studying a language who has proficiency in or a cultural connection to that language’ (Kelleher 2010: 1). Although understanding definitions of HL learners helps highlight the differences of heritage and non-heritage learners to better serve their unique learning needs, it is critical to be aware of the ‘elastic’ and ‘diverse’ nature of heritage language learners (Wiley 2001) because of individual differences such as family history.

HL learners have distinctive characteristics when compared with traditional foreign language learners. Luo, Li and Li (2017: 4) summarized,

Linguistically, HL learners have relatively strong aural and oral skills due to home exposure, but their literacy skills are limited because of lack of formal training; their linguistic skills (e.g. grammar, vocabulary) even in areas of listening and speaking are limited to immediate personal needs at home, so they have very little knowledge of register and are less competent in relatively formal situations.

Most CHL studies adopt Valdés’ definition when defining CHL learners. For example, He (2006: 1) defined that a CHL learner was an individual ‘who was raised in a home where Chinese was spoken, who spoke or at least understood the language and was to some degree bilingual in Chinese and in English’. This definition overlooks CHL learners with a Chinese heritage connection who might never use Chinese with any family members, such as adoptees adopted at a

very young age by an English-speaking family. CHL learners can also come from intermarried families; however, if one parent who speaks Chinese, chooses not to use Chinese in his/her immediate family, his/her child(ren) might not understand any Chinese before taking Chinese courses. Weger-Guntharp (2006: 31) helped fill the gap; she marked personal and ethnic ties, instead of Chinese proficiency, when defining CHL learners: a CHL learner as ‘an individual who has one or more parents who speak Chinese as their first language and who self-identified themselves as taking Chinese classes in part because of their ethnic heritage’.

Before learning Chinese formally in school, CHL learners’ Chinese proficiency levels are very diverse and impacted by many factors. For example, Chinese proficiency levels depend on the age Chinese immigrants arrived in an English-dominant society. Chinese immigrants who have completed at least elementary school before emigrating tend to have a significant higher literacy level (Xiang 2016). The extent of exposure to Chinese is another factor. If the CHL learner’s only exposure to Chinese is through talking to their parents and/or grandparents, they may have developed basic listening and speaking skills in Chinese, but have limited vocabulary as well as inadequate knowledge of language registers and genres. They usually are not able to read and write in Chinese before taking any Chinese courses. However, if CHL learners have more exposure to Chinese in their household such as learning some basic Chinese characters, watching Chinese TV shows/cartoons, and reading Chinese books, they may have developed more vocabulary and are able to read simple Chinese children’s books. Additionally, if Chinese adoptees were adopted at a young age and raised in an English-speaking household, their exposure to Chinese is very limited so their CHL proficiency level is very low. CHL learners’ Chinese proficiency levels are also affected by their prior language backgrounds. For example, a CHL learner might grow up with Cantonese, but is learning Mandarin Chinese, and these two Chinese variations are unintelligible to each other. Hence, this CHL learner probably should take a beginner’s course of Mandarin Chinese.

CHL learners’ attitudes/motivations towards learning Chinese are different too. CHL learners’ interest in learning Chinese has been reported to descend with age. They perceived learning CHL as a tedious task, especially when they started to learn the Chinese written system and when academic pressure started to increase from their mainstream schools (Wen and Li 2016; Zhang and Slaughter-Defoe 2009). However, many CHL learners regretted not acquiring CHL proficiency after they attended college (Huang 2012) and found motivation to study Chinese again. Compared to Chinese as a foreign language (CFL) learners, CHL learners’ motivation towards learning CHL is more related to integrative factors (e.g. appreciation and integration with culture and language) (Gardner and Lambert 1972) and instrumental factors (e.g. job opportunities associated with the language learning) (Lu and Li 2008). When studying CHL learners and Non-CHL learners at the college level in western New York, Lu and Li (2008) reported CHL learners’ motivation significantly correlated to parental involvement, friends using the language, and school-related motivation (e.g. promoting a sense of ethnic pride and cultural belonging in school). Similar findings were reported in the National Heritage Language Resource Center (NHLRC)’s 2009 survey results that HL learners were motivated to study HL because of their linguistic and cultural heritage and the need to bond and communicate with family members (Carreira and Kagan 2011). Because of the economic development of China in recent years, CHL learners are also motivated to study CHL for its potential job prospects.

CHL in Community-Based CHL Schools

Community-based CHL schools (CHLSs hereafter) or Chinese supplementary schools (the term used in the UK) are major providers of teaching CHL. Their existence has a long history in the

US, the UK, and Canada. The first Chinese language school in the United States dates back as far as 1848 (Chao 1997). The first Chinese school in East London, named Chung Hua Chinese school, was established in 1934/1935 (Mendl 2014; Ny 1968). The first Chinese school in Canada dates back to 1874 (Clayton n.d.). Despite the long existence, CHLSs in Canada, the US, and the UK are isolated, unknown by the society at large, and lack support from mainstream education (Duff et al. 2017). Based on previous and recent CHL studies (e.g. Liao et al. 2017; Wang 2004), most of CHLSs rent facilities from local churches/temples, and public schools. They offer classes to students at varied age groups on weekends or after school hours, usually two to four hours, and are operated by local Chinese community leaders and Chinese immigrant parents. Such community-based CHLSs are also supported either by the Overseas Chinese Affairs office of the State Council (Mainland China) or the Overseas Community Affairs Council (Taiwan) who provide Chinese language teacher trainings and teaching resources. Not only do CHLSs teach Chinese language and culture but also serve an important role in local Chinese communities. They host Chinese community events (e.g. Chinese New Year celebration), create social networks among Chinese families, and represent their Chinese community in local social events (e.g. Asian Festival).

Curriculum

Mandarin Chinese (simplified Characters and PinYin),¹ compared to Cantonese, Taiwanese Mandarin (traditional Characters and Zhuyin Fuhao),² and other Chinese variations (e.g. Hakka), becomes the more predominant language taught in CHLSs (Lai 2004). Textbooks usually are the de facto curriculum used in CHLSs as reported by many CHL research studies (e.g. Lü 2014), mainly focusing on Chinese language and literacy development, not on teaching Chinese through content areas (e.g. Math). Textbook series such as *Zhong Wen* (中文) and *Han Yu* (汉语) are widely adopted by CHLSs that teach Mandarin Chinese. For example, the *Zhong Wen* (中文) series, published by JiNan University in mainland China, contains one textbook that teaches PinYin and 12 leveled textbooks. Such textbook series usually focus on learning PinYin and Chinese characters first and then move to develop Chinese reading and writing skills. Popular among the textbook choices in CHLSs that teach traditional Chinese characters and Zhuyin Fuhao are *Huayu/Meizhou Chinese series* and *Let's Learn Chinese* (齊來學中文). Taking *Meizhou Chinese series* (美洲華語) as an example, they contain 10 leveled textbooks, introducing *ZhuYin FuHao* and traditional Chinese characters first and then gradually moving to reading and writing development. No matter which textbooks CHLSs choose to adopt, they intend to address learning needs of Chinese children living abroad, helping Chinese immigrant children to develop Chinese language and literacy skills as well as to learn Chinese traditional cultures. Although the textbooks might aim to balance Chinese speaking, listening, reading, and writing development as noted in the foreword section, they put much more attention to writing and reading Chinese characters. Additionally, some traditional cultural aspects (e.g. obedience and conformity) that appeared in the textbooks might be in conflict with cultural values (e.g. critical thinking) of a Western mainstream society (Curdtt-Christiansen 2008). When cultural conflicts appeared in a CHL class, CHL students did resist the traditional values and association of Chinese culture, for example, by posing challenging questions in class (Li and Zhu 2014).

In addition to Chinese language classes, community-based CHLSs often offer college-level Chinese classes (e.g. AP preparation classes in the US and A levels/Cambridge Pre-U in the UK) and other enrichment/extracurricular classes (e.g. Chinese chess and Chinese martial arts). Willing to gain more public recognition and formalize language instruction as well as retain CHL learners in the program, some community-based CHLSs make efforts to gain appropriate accreditation in order to offer credit-bearing Chinese language courses to count for world/

foreign/modern language credits accepted by mainstream school systems. They have to re-evaluate their curriculum to match it with world languages curriculum used in public middle/high schools and need an approval from local educational agents (e.g. state department of education). In the United States, because of the implementation of the Seal of Biliteracy³ (approved by 25 states as of 2017), some CHL schools reached out to work with local high schools and districts to encourage, nominate, and award their CHL learners the Seal.

Teacher Force

CHL teachers at community-based CHLSs are usually parent and/or community volunteers; some CHLSs pay their CHL teachers a small monthly stipend. However, CHL teachers may not necessarily have any prior teaching and/or Chinese teaching experiences (see Lü 2014 for examples of CHL teachers' teaching credentials in a typical CHL school). Speaking 'standard' Chinese (e.g. Mandarin, Cantonese) as written on the job advertisements, being responsible, caring, and being willing to attend teaching trainings are the main qualifications when hiring CHL teachers at CHLSs. However, with the trend to offer advanced Chinese classes (e.g. AP Chinese) and credit-bearing Chinese language courses, CHLSs face challenges to improve their CHL teachers' teaching credentials and qualifications. Since 2014, the Overseas Chinese Affairs Office of the State Council (mainland China) has been promoting the Chinese language teaching certificate program (i.e. 华文教师证书) overseas. The program includes training, test, and certification. The main goal is to formalize and professionalize Chinese heritage language teacher education overseas. Many CHLSs attempt to help their CHL teachers to gain formal teaching license either in teaching Chinese as a world/foreign/modern language or teaching Chinese as a heritage language.

Instructional Practices

CHL classes are seen as 'dominated by repetitive drills and exercise coupled with memorization of texts' (Li 2005: 203) and teacher-centered (Lü 2014); that is, CHL teachers usually dominated the class by asking 'direct questions, modeling correct language use and monitoring students' involvement actively' (p. 91). This type of instruction might relate to the CHL teaching force that has a wide range of teaching qualifications, and their previous teaching and Chinese-learning experiences back in mainland China or Taiwan. It might also be an objective of CHLSs which want to socialize CHL learners into 'Chinese' identities and Chinese ways of schooling (He 2004). Wang (2004: 315) observed in CHL classrooms that the teaching and learning of Chinese characters became the goals of the text-driven curricular content: 'language instruction frequently becomes a coding and decoding activity'; classroom activities usually included analysing radicals and stroke order analysis, making sentences by using target characters, read aloud, and translation. Literacy strategies (e.g. reading strategies) were left out in teaching due to CHL teachers' lack of knowledge and understanding of literacy development (Pu 2010). The learning was assessed by examining how well one can read or write characters. Unfortunately, such instructional practices (e.g. character drills) usually lead to the decrease of CHL learners' interest and motivation towards learning Chinese.

Additionally, CHL teachers are very aware of the power of English over Chinese in their students' daily life. To encourage their students to continue learning Chinese, they sometimes have to lower their expectations on homework and even tests. As one CHL teacher commented during the interview in Pu's (2008: 287) study: 'In some cases, it's hard to expect that they [students] can write in Chinese. Kids are very busy with their other activities to develop their talent so that

they can be successful in American society; they do not have much time or many opportunities to practice writing Chinese’.

Working with researchers and Chinese language teaching experts from different agencies (e.g. Chinese School Association in the United States), many CHLSs started working on improving teaching effectiveness and teacher training, and started experimenting with different pedagogical approaches adopted in the second language acquisition field. For example, influenced by Cummins’ (2000) language teaching model (i.e. meaning-form-use), the macro-based approach (Carreira 2016), and multiliteracies, Anderson and Chung (2011) investigated how art-based creativity was used (i.e. create a scrapbook to illustrate the traditional Chinese chant ‘four season song’ and a digital story of ‘the Chinese Zodiac’) in two Chinese community language schools in London. They found through these two projects, CHL learners were able to develop Chinese language and literacy skills, and cognitive and critical thinking skills, as well as affirm their bilingual bicultural identities. Additionally, with the advancement of technology and the integration of technology in teaching, many CHLSs started offering online teaching and learning tools to enrich their students’ learning experiences, such as Moodle classes, Chinese-learning online games and programs, websites that accompanied the textbooks, and Powerpoint slides.

Assessments

In CHLSs, placement assessments are usually conducted through informal observations by CHL teachers. However, very little empirical research has been conducted to analyze the effectiveness of CHL assessment tools to measure CHL proficiency in CHLSs (Xiang 2016). Based on existing CHL studies (e.g. Lü 2014), evaluation of student performance in CHL classes is mostly based on teacher observations, homework, regular quizzes, and mid-term and final exams. Both regular quizzes and exams are designed by the instructor him/herself, testing students’ knowledge of Chinese language (e.g. Pinyin, characters, and word phrases) and understanding of lessons they have had from the textbook. Writing tasks such as essays and sentence writing are usually part of assessments. As for standardized tests, CHL learners with a more advanced level in Chinese are encouraged to take HSK tests (Chinese proficiency test in writing and speaking) sponsored by the Confucius Institute Headquarters (Hanban). Younger students (primary and middle school) can take the Youth Chinese Test (i.e. Speaking and writing tests) which is also sponsored by the Confucius Institute Headquarters (Hanban). Although Chinese traditional culture is one of the key components that CHL school wants their students to learn and maintain, research (e.g. An 2011) found that there was usually no systematical evaluation adopted to assess CHL learners’ Chinese cultural competence.

Liu (2010) reported, however, the majority of parents believed that two to three hours per week of CHL classes were insufficient to help their children become fully proficient in Chinese, although they helped CHL learners develop understanding towards Chinese language and culture, and created a sense of cultural and ethnic pride, and provided opportunities for CHL learners to interact with other Chinese speakers. Additionally, due to various reasons (e.g. the dominance of English, pressure of participating in other extracurricular activities), it is a challenge to keep CHL learners in CHL schools; their drop-out rate increases as CHL learners become older (Wen and Li 2016).

CHL in K-12 Schools

Scant research has been conducted and reported regarding Chinese heritage language learners learning Chinese language in mainstream K-12 schools, although we see growing numbers

of students studying Chinese and growing Chinese language programs in the United States, Canada, and the United Kingdom (Duff et al. 2017; Zhang and Li 2010). Taking the United States as an example, the national K-12 foreign-language enrollment survey was conducted by American Councils for International Education in 2017. At the K-8 level (based on the survey responses from 35 states and the District of Columbia), 34 Chinese language programs were reported (ranked fourth as the most commonly taught language other than English). At the 9-12 level (responses from 51 states), 1,144 Chinese language programs were reported (i.e. Top 5 most commonly taught language other than English). In total (K-12), there were 227,086 students enrolled in the Chinese language programs; however, collected data did not disaggregate enrollments for students who were Chinese heritage language learners or of Chinese descent. Such a limitation in data collection also appears in the 2015/16 language learning in primary and secondary schools in England survey (Tinsley and Board 2016) sponsored by British Council and Education Development Trust. Indeed, at the K-12 level, few programs make such a distinction.

So far, few studies reported how differentiated instruction was used to teach students of Chinese descent enrolled in Chinese language programs in K-12 schools. Based on my own experiences in a local Chinese/English two-way immersion classroom, limited differentiated instruction was implemented to meet four CHL learners' needs. From the conversation with their Chinese-teacher and classroom observations, I learned that the only instructional differentiation implemented by the teacher was through grouping during classroom activities. They were considered as more competent Chinese language learners.

Due to the limited numbers of Chinese language textbook publishers outside of mainland China and Taiwan, one of the biggest challenges K-12 Chinese language teachers face is to find instructional resources; for dual-language programs, it is even harder to find textbooks of other content areas (e.g. Math) written in Chinese. Chinese language teachers usually spend a lot of time creating their own teaching materials by relying on online resources such as Pinterest (i.e. an online idea pin board). It is even harder to find appropriate resources to create a curriculum for CHL learners.

In addition to informal assessments conducted by teachers in class, students' Chinese proficiency in these K-12 programs is usually assessed through standardized tests. These include the AP (Advanced Placement), IB (International Baccalaureate), STAMP (Standards-based Measurement of Proficiency), ACTFL (American Council on the Teaching of Foreign Languages) assessments, GCSE/A Level Chinese (UK's General Certificate of Secondary Education/Advanced Level), HSK assessments, and TOCFL (Test of Chinese as a Foreign Language)/CCCC (Children's Chinese Competence Certification). Nevertheless, such high-stakes standardized tests, usually designed for foreign-language learners, have been criticized (e.g. Kondo-Brown 2010) as inappropriate proficiency measurement instruments for determining HL learners' linguistic skills. Valdés (1989) analyzed ACTFL proficiency guidelines and argued that HL learners did not fit neatly into the language developmental hierarchy identified in the guidelines so the descriptors could not accurately describe HL learners. In a more recent study, Martin, Swender and Rivera-Martinez (2013: 220) analyzed using the 2012 ACTFL proficiency guidelines to assess HLLs' speaking abilities and found that 'even at Intermediate on the ACTFL scale, fluency and pronunciation of heritage speakers may sound native-like, but such qualities do not compensate for lack of sustained functional ability as defined by the ACTFL Proficiency Guidelines 2012'.

Additionally, educational policies have not been supportive to provide a positive environment for HL continuous development and maintenance in K-12 schools. In Ontario, Canada, there are Chinese/English bilingual programs with a good balance of Chinese and non-Chinese background students; however, such programs are transitional because the Education Act in Ontario prohibits schools from teaching through the medium of a heritage language except on

a short-term transitional basis to help students learn English (Cummins 2014). In the United States, the newly implemented education law ESSA (Every Student Succeeds Act) emphasizes improving English learners' English-language proficiency, but does not recognize or encourage the development of bilingualism and biliteracy among American students (Baker and Wright 2017). ESSA only provides some support to young dual-language learners (under the age of 5) through strengthening early childhood education and care workforce (Pompa, Park and Fix 2017). In England and Northern Ireland, the introduction of compulsory language teaching at Key Stage 2 (age 7–11) from September 2014 presents a language learning opportunity for all English pupils; however, the number of pupils taking a language at Key Stage 4 (ages 14–16) has declined significantly since this requirement became optional at this Key Stage (Tinsley and Board 2014).

In terms of the teaching force, Chinese language teachers in K-12 programs are either recruited and sponsored by Hanban/Confucius Institute Headquarters, affiliated with the Chinese Ministry of Education, or native speakers of Chinese who have obtained or are pursuing a teaching license. They are also required to demonstrate Chinese language proficiency through standardized tests such as the Chinese Proficiency Test (HSK). However, most modern/world language teacher education programs and/or teacher education programs in general do not prepare teacher candidates specifically to teach heritage language learners (Duff, Liu and Li 2017). Chinese language teachers recruited from China (sponsored by Hanban) also face challenges when teaching in Chinese immersion programs overseas, such as curriculum development, use of the target language, classroom management, subject area teaching, and teaching style (see Zhou and Li [2015] for detailed discussion). They also lack knowledge about the diversity of CHL learners and their learning needs. Currently, Chinese/English bilingual programs and Chinese language programs in K-12 schools are not designed for CHL learners to continuously develop their CHL and positive ethnic identity (He 2008; Wen and Li 2016).

CHL in Postsecondary Programs

Although many students of Chinese descent choose to (re)connect to their Chinese heritage language once they enter college for varied reasons (e.g. job opportunity, identity), college-level Chinese language courses, usually offered by proficiency levels (e.g. Beginning, Intermediate, Advanced Mandarin Chinese), are mainly designed as foreign-language courses. Only a few university programs offer a separate track for learning Chinese as a heritage language. Based on the CLTA (The Chinese language Teacher Association) 2012 survey of college-level Chinese language programs in North America, 70.5 percent (of 216 respondents) offered mixed courses for both heritage and non-heritage learners, and 23.7 percent reported offering courses tailored to Chinese heritage learners, albeit sometimes they were just placed in an accelerated class using the same textbooks compared to non-CHL learners (Li, Wen and Xie 2014). Also, most of these CHL track courses were limited to the first two years of the curricula (Li, Wen and Xie 2014). Indeed, it takes sufficient and stable enrollment, funding, instructors with adequate CHL training, and administrative and faculty support to offer a separate CHL track program.

Few textbooks are available to cater exclusively to CHL learners in the university context (Xiang 2016). Popular choices among CHL track programs are *A Primer for Advanced Beginners of Chinese* (大学中文) published by Columbia University Press, *Oh, China!: An Elementary Reader of Modern Chinese for Advanced Beginners* (中国啊! 中国) published by Princeton University Press, and *Me and China* (我和中国) published by MacMillan. They all offer theme/topic-based units, introducing the study of China (e.g. history, culture, geography) and life of Chinese immigrant families. In addition to the main content, these textbooks include vocabulary (Chinese

characters and Pinyin), grammar notes, and accompanied exercises. Usually, supplementary teaching materials (e.g. web-based) and authentic materials were also incorporated into teaching by instructors. Based on the 2012 survey (Li et al. 2014), a combined session without the division of lecture and drill sessions were a common practice across Chinese language programs at postsecondary institutions in North America. The survey also reported that instructors were mainly from three sources: Confucius institute sponsored Chinese-teacher volunteers, part- and full-time lectures/professors, and graduate teaching assistants. Both simplified and traditional Chinese scripts were introduced in such programs, although the simplified script appeared to be a more dominant choice. Only a few programs (11%) allowed students to choose their preferred script. Although four language processing domains (i.e. listening, speaking, reading, and writing) were addressed in such programs to help CHL learners develop communicative competence in Chinese, different programs might have their own preference, putting more emphasis on reading and writing prior to speaking and listening, or vice versa. Much empirical research is needed to investigate what effective pedagogical approaches can help CHL learners develop Chinese language communicative competence. For example, will CHL learners benefit from learning Pinyin prior to Chinese characters? Should they be introduced to the traditional script before the simplified script?

Students placed in the CHL track often go through a placement process including a written placement test, a language background survey, self-assessment of language skills, and an oral proficiency-interview. Chinese language instructors mainly rely on course-level assessment to evaluate student learning outcomes established by each course or their CHL track program. Learning outcomes are usually aligned with foreign-language education standards or framework (e.g. the Common European Framework of Reference used in the UK, ACTFL proficiency levels used in the USA.); however, there is no professional framework for CHL track programs.

Challenges and Recommendations

Due to the complexity of Chinese language (i.e. different Chinese language variations, different script systems) and heterogeneous CHL learners as well as their diverse prior experiences with Chinese language, an effective CHL program needs 1) appropriately prepared Chinese teachers who can understand, analyze, and meet CHL learners' learning needs, 2) appropriate curriculum materials, 3) pedagogical approaches that cater CHL learners and allow flexibility, and 4) streamlined standards that shape teaching and assessments.

Current Chinese-teacher training workshops that are available to CHL teachers (e.g. Confucius Institute) focus more on improving teaching techniques, such as designing a course and testing the effectiveness of different teaching strategies. However, it is also essential to equip Chinese teachers with tools to understand the diversity among CHL learners and their identity development, learn how to identify strengths and gaps CHL learners have compared to non-CHL learners, and evaluate CHL learners' learning needs from linguistic, cognitive, and affective perspectives. To my knowledge, NHLRC is one of few institutions that offer heritage language teacher workshops that focus on understanding the needs of heritage language learners, differentiated teaching, and challenges of teaching heritage language learners and possible solutions (Professional Development 2018).

Curriculum and materials development is identified as another pressing issue for heritage language education (Kagan and Dillon 2008). It is urgent in the field of teaching CHL to develop appropriate pedagogical materials that build upon CHL learners' bicultural and bilingual experiences, no matter if it is for a separate CHL classroom or a mixed classroom. The issue has been in discussion among CHL researchers. For example, Li and Duff (2008: 26) suggested

CHL teachers and researchers needed to develop ‘teaching materials at an appropriate linguistic and cognitive level, focus on literacy and higher-level register development, and contain relevant cultural, sociocultural, and sociolinguistic information’. Building upon current research in the field of heritage language education and CHL learners’ experience of growing up bilingual and bicultural in the US, Wu and Chang (2010) suggested that using macro-approaches in curriculum design would benefit CHL learners learning Chinese language and culture. The macro-approaches used in their secondary Chinese heritage language summer program included ‘using age-appropriate academic vocabulary, fairly large and complex texts, emphasizing the content and gradually improving spelling, grammar, and stylistics, emphasizing monologue and discussion, and providing full range of native language input (e.g. movies, audio, visual, internet-based interactive technology) that contain pertinent cultural information’ (Wu and Chang 2010: 26). The topics incorporated into the program were the Chinese Exclusion Act and Chinese immigration, history and personal experiences of Chinatowns, intergenerational relationships and family language policies, Chinese American experiences, and pop music in Mandarin-speaking regions. The authors noticed student levels of motivation to learn and use Chinese had been increased and the sense of community among participants had been created. The findings provided suggestions of motivating CHL learners and brought hopes of improving retention rates among secondary CHL learners in CHL programs. However, in addition to finding teaching materials and developing teaching techniques to motivate CHL learners to continue learning Chinese, much empirical research is needed to examine the efficiency of CHL curricula and pedagogies in terms of CHL students’ Chinese language proficiency.

It will be helpful to develop a streamlined framework of standards for Chinese as a heritage language throughout K-16 contexts that can be adopted by both mainstream and community-based programs. Due to limited interactions among community-based CHL programs, K-12 Chinese programs, and Chinese programs at the postsecondary level, there lacks consistency among different programs in terms of curriculum and assessment, as Wang (2010) and Xiang (2016) called it a broken pipeline. As a result, CHL learners’ previous Chinese-learning experiences might not be recorded and recognized when entering Chinese classes at the college level (Wang 2010), and CHL learners might develop uneven distribution of Chinese language skills throughout different Chinese programs. Additionally, Chinese culture and CHL learners’ identity development may not be consistently represented in the curriculum. A streamlined framework of proficiency standards will provide guidance to assessments which can track CHL learners’ overall progress, identify strengths and gaps, and shape teaching practices with shared common goals. Recognizing CHL learners’ diverse prior experiences with Chinese language, the standards should also provide flexibility to map individuals’ proficiency levels in all language domains: reading, writing, listening, and speaking.

Conclusion

Although teaching Chinese heritage language has a long history in Chinese diasporic communities in North America and the United Kingdom, it began to gain increasing attention among researchers and educators in the past two decades due to the increase of CHL schools and CHL learners in mainstream Chinese language programs. It is critical to fix inconsistency and fill gaps among different types of programs that serve CHL learners, and overcome challenges in the areas of curriculum, teaching materials and pedagogies, assessments, and CHL teacher qualifications and professional development. Collaborations are needed among all types of Chinese language programs, local school districts, states/provinces, professional organizations, teacher education programs, and policymakers to work together to find solutions, leverage resources,

and further advance the field of teaching Chinese as a heritage language. For example, the Confucius Institute Headquarters (Hanban) works closely with many universities/colleges in North America and the UK to promote Chinese language and culture oversea. By 2014, there were 110 Confucius institutes and 501 Confucius K-12 classrooms established in the United States, 12 Confucius institutes and 35 Confucius K-12 classrooms in Canada, 29 Confucius institutes and 148 Confucius K-12 classrooms in the United Kingdom (About Confucius Institutes 2014). StarTalk is another strong supporter of language education and language teacher development in the United States, funded by the National Security Agency and administered by the National Foreign Language Center at the University of Maryland; it aims to increase the number of US citizens learning, speaking, and teaching critically needed world languages. Chinese is one of 11 critical languages in StarTalk programs. Partnering with StarTalk, some Chinese language programs in US universities/colleges also funded summer programs for both Chinese language teacher training and Chinese language learning for K-16 students. However, neither Confucius institutes nor StarTalk aims to help CHL learners learn and maintain Chinese language. Few reports and research studies discussed how these two agencies could partner with community-based CHL schools/programs to help support teaching and learning Chinese as a heritage language. Also, as mentioned earlier in the chapter, currently, there are very limited collaborations between community-based Chinese language schools and mainstream Chinese programs that serve CHL learners.

More importantly, in order to have sustainable teaching Chinese as a heritage language programs in an English-dominant society, in addition to grassroots' support from local Chinese communities, we need to have an educational and political environment that values heritage languages and cultures, and recognizes the contributions they will bring to the society. In the effort of increasing speakers of strategic languages such as Chinese for a country's future prosperity and global standing, it is important to leverage existing language resources, recognize heritage languages already spoken and used in local communities, and invest in heritage language learners/speakers. It is ambivalent that immigrants who have already acquired one or more languages are expected to assimilate to a mainstream culture, as well as learn and use English only, but English monolinguals are expected to learn different languages other than English and other cultures. Only when an English-dominant society gets rid of the ambivalent attitudes towards languages other than English and takes actions to promote heritage language maintenance, we may be able to overturn the language shift pattern of 'only English by the third generations'.

Notes

- 1 *PinYin: The Romanization system used in Mainland China.
- 2 *ZhuYin FuHao: a phonetic system used in Taiwan.
- 3 *The Seal of Bilingual: In the United States, the Seal of Bilingual is an award given by a school, district, or state in recognition of students who have studied and attained proficiency in two or more languages by high school graduation. (<http://sealofbilingual.org/>)

References

- About Confucius Institutes. (2014) Retrieved from http://english.hanban.org/node_10971.htm.
- American Councils for International Education. (2017) The National K-12 Foreign Language Enrollment Survey Report (2017). Retrieved from www.americancouncils.org/sites/default/files/FLE-report-June17.pdf.
- An, N. (2011). Teaching Culture and Language to Chinese Heritage Language Learners: Teachers' Perception and Practices (master's thesis). Retrieved from https://etd.ohiolink.edu/!etd.send_file?accession=toledo1310055561&disposition=inline

- Anderson, J. and Chung, Y. (2011) 'Finding a voice: Arts based creativity in the community languages classroom'. *International Journal of Bilingual Education and Bilingualism* 14(5): 551–569.
- Baker, C. and Wright, W. (2017) *Foundations of Bilingual Education and Bilingualism*, 6th edn. Bristol: Multilingual Matters.
- Carreira, M. (2016) 'Supporting heritage language learners through macro-based approaches'. In S. Beaudrie and M. Fairclough (eds.), *Innovative Approaches in HL Pedagogy: From Research to Practice*, 123–142. Washington, DC: Georgetown University Press.
- Carreira, M. and Kagan, O. (2011) 'The results of the national heritage language survey: Implications for teaching, curriculum design, and professional development'. *Foreign Language Annals* 44(1): 40–64.
- Chao, T. H. (1997) Chinese heritage community language schools in the United States. ERIC Digest. Retrieved from www.ericdigests.org/1998-1/chinese.htm.
- Clayton, J. (n.d.) 'Chinese public school: A cultural centre in Chinatown'. Retrieved from http://chinatown.library.uvic.ca/chinese_public_school.
- Cummins, C. (1992) 'Heritage language teaching in Canadian schools'. *Journal of Curriculum Studies* 24: 287–296.
- Cummins, C. (2000) *Language, Power and Pedagogy: Bilingual Children in the Crossfire*. Clevedon, UK: Multilingual Matters.
- Cummins, J. (2014) 'To what extent are Canadian second language policies evidence-based? Reflections on the intersections of research and policy'. *Frontiers in Psychology* 5: 1–10.
- Curdts-Christiansen, X. L. (2008) 'Reading the world through words: Cultural themes in heritage Chinese language textbooks'. *Language and Education* 22(2): 95–113.
- Duff, P., Liu, Y. and Li, D. (2017) 'Chinese heritage language learning: Negotiating identities, ideologies, and institutionalization'. In O. Kagan, M. Carreira and C. Chik (eds.), *The Routledge Handbook of Heritage Language Education: From Innovation to Program Building*, 409–422. New York: Routledge.
- Gardner, R. C. and Lambert, W. E. (1972) 'Motivational variables in second language acquisition'. In R. C. Gardner and W. Lambert (eds.), *Attitudes and Motivation in Second Language Learning*, 119–216. Rowley, MA: Newbury House.
- He, A. (2006) 'Toward an identity theory of the development of Chinese as a heritage language'. *Heritage Language Journal* 4(1): 1–28.
- He, A. W. (2004) 'Identity construction in Chinese heritage language classes'. *Pragmatics* 14(2–3): 199–216.
- He, A. W. (2008) 'Chinese as a heritage language: An introduction'. In A. W. He and Y. Xiao (eds.), *Chinese as a Heritage Language: Fostering Rooted World Citizenry*. Vol. 2, 1–12. Honolulu, HI: University of Hawaii Press.
- Huang, Z. D. (2012) *Chinese heritage school's role in Chinese language maintenance and identity formation in the U.S.* (Doctoral dissertation). Retrieved from ProQuest. (UMI Number: 3545635)
- Kagan, O. and Dillon, K. (2008) 'Issues in heritage language learning in the United States'. In N. Van Deusen-Scholl and N. H. Hornberger (eds.), *Encyclopedia of Language and Education*, 2nd edn. Volume 4: Second and foreign language education, 143–156. Dordrecht: Springer Science+Business Media LLC.
- Kelleher, A. (2010) 'Who is heritage language learner?' Center for Applied Linguistics. Retrieved from www.cal.org/heritage/pdfs/briefs/Who-is-a-Heritage-Language-Learner.pdf.
- Kondo-Brown, K. (2010) 'Curriculum development for advancing heritage language competence: Recent research, current practices, and a future agenda'. *Annual Review of Applied Linguistics* 30: 24–41.
- Lai, H. M. (2004) *Becoming Chinese American: A History of Communities and Institutions*. Walnut Creek, California: AltaMira Press.
- Li, D. and Duff, P. (2008) 'Issues in Chinese heritage language education and research at the postsecondary level'. In A. W. He and Y. Xiao (eds.), *Chinese as a Heritage Language: Fostering Rooted World Citizenry*, 13–32. Honolulu, HI: University of Hawai'i, National Foreign Language Resource Center.
- Li, M. (2005) 'The role of parents in Chinese heritage-language schools'. *Bilingual Research Journal* 29(1): 197–207.
- Li, W. (1994) *Three Generations, Two Languages, One Family: Language Choice and Language Shift in a Chinese Community in Britain*. Clevedon: Multilingual Matters.

- Li, W. and Zhu, H. (2014) 'Language and literacy teaching, learning and socialization in the Chinese complementary school classroom'. In X. Curdt-Christiansen and A. Hancock (eds.), *Learning Chinese in Diasporic Communities: Many Pathways to Being Chinese*, 117–135. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Li, Y., Wen, X. and Xie, T. (2014) 'CLTA 2012 Survey of College-level Chinese language programs in North America'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teacher Association* 49(1): 1–49.
- Liao, Li., Larke, P. and Holl-Jackson, V. (2017) 'Bridging two worlds: Experiences of Chinese and Taiwanese Americans attending Chinese heritage schools in Houston'. *Heritage Language Journal* 14(2): 171–187.
- Liu, N. (2010) *The Role of Confucius Institutes in Chinese Heritage Language Community Language (HL-CL) Schools: Stakeholders' Views*. Unpublished doctoral dissertation. Arizona State University, Tempe.
- Lü, C. (2014) 'Chinese heritage language schools in the United States'. In X. Curdt-Christiansen and A. Hancock (eds.), *Learning Chinese in Diasporic Communities: Many Pathways to Being Chinese*, 81–96. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Lu, X. and Li, G. (2008) 'Motivation and achievement in Chinese language learning: A comparative analysis'. In A. He and Y. Xiao (eds.), *Chinese as a Heritage Language: Fostering Rooted World Citizenry*, 89–108. Honolulu, HI: University of Hawai'i Press.
- Luo, H., Li, M. and Li, Y. (2017) 'College-level Chinese as a heritage language curriculum development: A case study'. *Journal of Chinese Language Teaching* 14(2): 1–40.
- Martin, C., Swender, E. and Rivera-Martinez, M. (2013) 'Assessing the oral proficiency of heritage speakers according to the ACTFL proficiency guidelines 2012—speaking'. *Heritage Language Journal* 10(2): 211–225.
- McCarthy, N. (2018) 'The world's most spoken languages'. Retrieved from www.statista.com/chart/12868/the-worlds-most-spoken-languages/
- McGinnis, S. (July, 2005) 'From mirror to compass: The Chinese heritage language education sector in the United States'. Paper presented at the 14th World Congress of Applied Linguistics, Madison, Wisconsin.
- Mendl, K. (2014) 'Limehouse Chinatown'. Retrieved from www.halfmoon.org.uk/wp-content/uploads/2014/12/Limehouse-Schools-Pack-14.07.14-small.pdf.
- Ny, K. C. (1968) *The Chinese in London*. London: Oxford University Press.
- Pompa, D., Park, M. and Fix, M. (2017) 'New opportunities? ESSA and its implications for dual language learners and ECEC workforce development'. *Policy Briefs*, Migration Policy Institute. Retrieved from www.migrationpolicy.org/research/new-opportunities-essa-and-its-implications-dual-language-learners-and-ecec-workforce.
- Professional Development. (2018) Retrieved from <http://nhlrc.ucla.edu/nhlrc/category/profdev#1>.
- Pu, C. (2008) 'Chinese American children's bilingual and biliteracy development in heritage language and public schools'. Doctoral Dissertation. San Antonio: University of Texas, San Antonio.
- Pu, C. (2010) 'The influence of public and heritage language schools on Chinese American children's biliteracy development'. *Bilingual Research Journal* 33(2): 150–172.
- Ricento, T. (2015) 'Bi/Multilingual education in Canada'. In W. E. Wright, S. Boun and O. García (eds.), *Handbook of Bilingual and Multilingual Education*, 461–472. Malden, MA: Wiley-Blackwell.
- Sneddon, R. (2017) 'Sustainable approaches to complementary education in England'. In O. Kagan, M. Carreira and C. Chik (eds.), *The Routledge Handbook of Heritage Language Education: From Innovation to Program Building*, 85–99. New York: Routledge.
- Statistics Canada. (2011) 'Linguistic characteristics of Canadians'. Retrieved from <http://www12.statcan.gc.ca/census-recensement/2011/as-sa/98-314-x/98-314-x2011001-eng.cfm>.
- Tinsley, T. and Board, K. (2014) 'The teaching of Chinese in the UK'. Retrieved from www.britishcouncil.org/sites/default/files/alcantara_full_report_jun15.pdf.
- Tinsley, T. and Board, K. (2016) 'Language trends 2015/16: The state of language learning in primary and secondary schools in England'. Retrieved from https://www.britishcouncil.org/sites/default/files/language_trends_survey_2016_0.pdf.
- UK Census. (2011) 'Language in England and Wales'. Office for National Statistics. Retrieved from www.ons.gov.uk/peoplepopulationandcommunity/culturalidentity/language/articles/languageinenglandandwales/2013-03-04.

- U.S. Census Bureau. (2011) 'Language use in the United States: 2011'. American Community Survey. Retrieved from www.census.gov/prod/2013pubs/acs-22.pdf.
- Valdés, G. (1989) 'Teaching spanish to Hispanic bilinguals: A look at oral proficiency testing the proficiency movement'. *Hispania* 72: 392–401.
- Valdés, G. (2000) 'Introduction'. In N. Anderson (ed.), *Spanish for Native Speakers: AATSP Professional Development Series Handbook for Teachers K-16*, 1–20. Orlando, FL: Harcourt College.
- Wang, S. C. (1996) 'Improving Chinese language schools: Issues and recommendations'. In X. Wang (ed.), *A View from Within: A Case Study of Chinese Heritage Community Language Schools in the United States*, 21–25. Washington, DC: The National Foreign Language Center.
- Wang, S. C. (2004) *Biliteracy Resource Eco-system of Intergenerational Language and Culture Transmission: An Ethnographic Study of a Chinese-American Community*. Unpublished dissertation, University of Pennsylvania.
- Wang, S. C. (2009) 'An ecological system approach to expanding the Chinese language field in the U.S.'. Paper presented at the Twelfth National Council of Less Commonly Taught Languages/Thirteenth African Language Teachers Association Conference, Washington, DC.
- Wang, S. C. (2010) 'Chinese language education in the United States: A historical overview and future directions'. In J. Chen, C. Wang and J. Cai (eds.), *Teaching and Learning Chinese Issues and Perspectives*, 3–32. Raleigh, NC: Information Age Publishing.
- Weger-Guntharp, H. (2006) 'Voices from the margin: Developing a profile of Chinese heritage language learners in the FL classroom'. *Heritage Language Journal* 4(1): 29–46.
- Wen, K. and Li, G. (2016) 'Chinese students' heritage language learning in the United States: Issues and challenges'. In W. Ma and G. Li (eds.), *Chinese-Heritage Students in North American Schools: Understanding Hearts and Minds Beyond Test Scores*, 11–24. New York: Routledge.
- Wiley, T. G. (2001) 'On defining heritage languages and their speakers'. In J. K. Peyton, D. A. Ranard and S. McGinnis (eds.), *Heritage Languages in American: Preserving a National Resource*, 29–36. McHenry, IL: Center for Applied Linguistics and Delta Systems Co., Inc.
- Wu, M. and Chang, T. (2010) 'Heritage language teaching and learning through a macro-approach'. *Working Papers in Educational Linguistics* 25(2): 23–33.
- Xiang, X. (2016) 'The teaching of Chinese to heritage language learners at the post-secondary level'. In J. Ruan, J. Zhang and C. Leung (eds.), *Chinese Language Education in the United States*, 167–194. New York, NY: Springer.
- Zhang, D. and Slaughter-Defoe, D. T. (2009) 'Language attitudes and heritage language maintenance among Chinese immigrant families in the USA'. *Language, Culture, and Curriculum* 22(2): 77–93.
- Zhang, G. X. and Li, L. M. (2010) 'Chinese language teaching in the UK: Present and future'. *Language Learning Journal* 38(1): 87–97.
- Zhou, W. and Li, G. (2015) 'Pedagogical challenges in cross-cultural Chinese language teaching: Perceptions and experiences of Chinese immersion teachers in the U.S'. In P. Smith and A. Kumi-Yeboah (eds.), *Handbook of Research on Cross-cultural Approaches to Language and Literacy Development*, 159–183. Hershey, PA: IGI Global.



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Part II

Chinese Language Pedagogy



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Methods of Teaching Chinese

Evolution and Emerging Trends

Haidan Wang

Introduction

Over the past several decades, Mandarin Chinese has increased in prominence, emerging as a global language (Tsung and Cruickshank 2011). As the official language of China, it is the most-spoken language in the world, with about 900 million native speakers, more than double the number of native speakers of Spanish, its nearest competitor (Simons and Fennig 2018). While communication with nearly 15 percent of the world's population is by itself an obvious attractant to potential learners of Chinese, China's emerging status as a world power with expanding economic, cultural, and political influence may constitute a more important motivation. The prominence of Mandarin is attested by the recent rapid growth in the size of Chinese-language programs and in the number of learners all over the world (Lu 2017). However, the teaching of Chinese as a second or foreign language is a relatively recent development, both in comparison to the teaching of various popular European languages (Wang 2010) and to the long and rich tradition of teaching of Chinese as a first language (Bianco 2011). This 'newcomer' status means that, to ensure the language is taught effectively, teachers and researchers should examine past and current teaching approaches, and give due consideration to future pedagogical options. Moreover, as Liskin-Gasparro (1982) pointed out, government agencies and other institutions tend to categorize Chinese as one of the world's most difficult languages for native speakers of European languages to learn. This makes the evaluation of Chinese-language teaching methods all the more crucial to a broad spectrum of stakeholders.

This chapter examines the history of teaching Chinese to non-native speakers, identifies the rationales behind the shifts in the methods used, and summarizes the key features of the presented methods. It also provides a critical review of the evolution of commonly adopted methods, highlights emerging trends, and identifies a set of key principles for creating effective new methods.

Foundational Concepts and Analytical Framework

This chapter uses the term 'teaching Chinese as a second language (TCSL)' in a broad sense, to refer to the teaching of the language to speakers whose first language is not Chinese. As such, it

is applied regardless of whether its recipients live in a Chinese-speaking, bilingual, or foreign-language environment, or are heritage- or immersion learners.

This chapter adopts Richards and Rogers's (2014) analytical framework, which utilizes 'method' as an umbrella term describing the entire teaching process. It includes: (a) approach, i.e. theoretical principles upon which curricular design is based; (b) curricular design itself, including the objectives, syllabus, activities, roles of the teacher and learner, and teaching materials; and (3) procedure, i.e. the techniques, practices, and behaviors observed when the method is applied. Accordingly, this chapter examines the past and current pedagogical methods, emerging trends, and probable future development of TCSL in terms of their approaches, designs, and procedures. In addition, representative textbooks will be referred to as evidence of the history of pedagogical change, the rationales behind various pedagogical claims, and the features of the major methods of TCSL that have been employed and/or studied.

Methodological History of TCSL

Far from being influenced solely by academic trends, pedagogical decisions are governed by their local social, political, and economic contexts. A brief account of the historical development of TCSL in the US and in China will provide the local contextual background necessary for scrutinizing TCSL methods and the rationales given for adopting them.

TCSL in the US

TCSL in the US can be divided chronologically into four periods (Wang 2010; Wang and Ruan 2016). The first period began in 1871, with the establishment of the country's first Chinese-language program at Yale University, and lasted until the beginning of World War II. Teaching focused on classical literary Chinese and was limited to a small number of elite schools and aspiring Christian missionaries and sinologists. The grammar-translation method was used, and instructors stressed reading over listening or speaking (Tsu 1970; Wang and Ruan 2016).

During the second period, from the 1940s to the 1960s, demand for Chinese-language instruction was driven mainly by the US military in response to the war and subsequent Cold War (Tsu 1970; Wang and Ruan 2016). The main objective of instruction shifted to training military personnel to be linguistically competent in Chinese, and its teaching focus moved from classical literary Chinese to listening and speaking. As TCSL expanded steadily within US higher education during this period, the audio-lingual method came to dominate it.

The third period, i.e. from the 1960s to the 2000s, was marked by the further expansion of Chinese teaching nationwide (Wang and Ruan 2016). With the end of the Cold War, the US faced new challenges, technological as well as military, from China and other global competitors including the former Soviet Union (Zhou 2011). In response, the US government backed a range of initiatives to provide funding for Chinese programs in selected universities and K-12 schools (Wang 2010). The main pedagogical approaches that resulted from this were of a hybrid character. The grammar-translation and audio-lingual methods played ongoing roles, alongside new methods such as community language learning, the total physical response method, and the communicative approach (Zhou 2011).

The fourth period, from the 2000s to the present, has been characterized by a rapid growth in Chinese teaching, motivated by the US government's recognition of the importance of linguistic abilities and cultural knowledge in maintaining America's status as a leading world power (Wang and Ruan 2016). The National Security Education Act of 1991 described the purposes of foreign-language teaching as, along with understanding foreign cultures, 'to strengthen

American economic competitiveness, and to enhance international cooperation and security' (Zhou 2011: 140). The National Security Language Initiatives' core programs—including STARTALK, Foreign Language Assistance Programs, and Language Flagship Program, among others—achieved huge success in increasing the number of Chinese learners nationwide, as well as in promoting and experimenting with new pedagogical approaches.

While all the aforementioned teaching approaches are still practiced in classrooms to various extents, several variants of communicative language teaching have found their way into TCSL practices, along with various post-communicative methods, hybrid approaches, and brand-new methods including proficiency-based teaching. Yet, despite the proliferation of new methods, this period also witnessed conceptual and terminological confusion, and teachers' dissatisfaction with some of the concepts, methods, and approaches that had arisen under the general rubric of the communicative method (among others). It was this set of concerns that opened the post-communicative era and gave rise to postmethod pedagogy, which seeks to transcend such limitations and advocates a new system suitable to real teaching situations with respect to the teacher's autonomy (Kumaravadivelu 2003). The concept of this new system triggered reflections on previous and existing teaching practices as well as explorations of new frameworks that are consistent with postmethod TCSL pedagogy (Ning 2001; Zhao 2010).

TCSL in China

TCSL in China began in the 1950s, notably with a special Chinese course for exchange students from Europe at Tsinghua University (Lu and Zhao 2011). Initially, it had three signature methods: the aural-oral approach; a combination of the grammar-translation and direct methods; and comparative methods (Lu and Zhao 2011). Although TCSL expanded considerably down to the early 1960s, this growth was then brought to a halt for political reasons until the late 1970s. China's Reform and Opening policy in 1978 revived it, and the ensuing two decades saw its emergence as an independent discipline, with stand-alone degree programs, proficiency standards, curricula, and assessment instruments (Moloney and Xu 2016). The functional-notional or communicative approach, which has profoundly influenced teaching practices, promoted a structural-functional syllabus underscoring the integration of structure, meaning, and function; and gradually, greater attention was given to communication needs both by curriculum designers and by classroom instructors (Lu and Zhao 2011).

TCSL has since developed rapidly, benefiting from China's economic and political rise (Wang and Ruan 2016). While functional-notional and communicative approaches are continuously being explored, new concepts of Chinese teaching have also come onto the scene. In particular, the typological characteristics of Chinese have attracted attention among both theorists and practitioners. Meanwhile, increasing global demand for Chinese-language skills, Chinese government investment, and a growing body of research have led to diversification of numerous aspects of TCSL, including its application of pedagogical theories, learning objectives, teaching approaches, and institutional settings. This diversity has given rise to modern hybrid pedagogy, which addresses the particular characteristics of Chinese as well as local teaching and learning needs (Moloney and Xu 2016).

Typological Characteristics of Chinese Language and Culture

The selection of TCSL methods is impacted by the typological characteristics of the Chinese language. The unique features of Chinese call for special pedagogical approaches that may not be necessary or appropriate to the teaching of other languages. Mandarin has four tones, each

of which functions to differentiate meanings, much as initial consonants and final vowels do within syllables. For learners from non-tonal language backgrounds, correctly perceiving and producing tones is understandably challenging. As logographic units, Chinese characters have their own graphic structures and compositional principles. They require special attention as lexical morphemes and differ fundamentally from phoneme-based alphabetical writing (Norman 1988). Learners need to master the sound, shape, and meaning of around 2,500 characters before they are able to read and write for general purposes. Special strategies need to be developed for achieving this goal. Linguistically, Chinese conveys morphological and grammatical relationships without using inflectional morphemes. Chinese words are formed either by an independent morpheme or by semantically joined multiple morphemes; and their grammatical relations rely heavily on word order and independent grammatical particles. These typological features generally pose major difficulties to native speakers of typologically different languages, and the development of new methods to facilitate learners' development of Chinese pronunciation, character knowledge, vocabulary, grammar, and pragmatic use have attracted considerable scholarly attention (Ke 2012; Ma et al. 2017).

One other important influence on TCSL methods is Chinese society's distinctive culture of teaching and learning, characterized by a level of deep commitment and painstaking effort over many centuries, among a much broader population (socioeconomically speaking) than in the West over an equivalent period. Teaching comprises the transmission of knowledge from authorities (teachers) to passive receivers (learners) through a process of imitation and repetition. As such, these educational beliefs closely parallel the principles of the grammar-translation method and audiolingualism (Hu 2002), and this consistency has allowed those two methods to build a stronghold in TCSL in Chinese contexts. Communicative language teaching, in contrast, conflicts with Chinese-learning culture in terms of its focal content, assumptions about the nature of teaching and learning, and the roles and responsibilities of teachers and students; and this has led to the failure of the communicative movement in China (Hu 2002). Although these observations and conclusions were based on English-language teaching in China, they reflect issues common to Chinese practitioners' approaches to TCSL.

The Evolution of TCSL Methods

Viewing methodological changes in TCSL through the lens of the factors reviewed in the previous section, certain approaches—i.e. the grammar translation, audio-lingual, communicative, and post-communicative methods—can be seen to have dominated TCSL in four distinct historical periods in both the US and China, albeit with slightly different start and end dates in those two countries. It should also be noted that, while these methods appeared in a definite sequence, they did not simply supplant one another, and all remain in use to some extent.

Grammar Translation

The use of grammar translation, which started at Yale University, dominated TCSL in elite schools until 1941, and its influence is still felt. The early Chinese courses in US higher education were offered to train sinologists or missionaries seeking a better understanding of Chinese culture, classical thought or philosophy, in addition to the language itself (Lindeck 1971). Classical Latin and classical Chinese have comparable statuses as non-living languages that exist only in written form, and this similarity enabled a natural-seeming transfer to classical Chinese of instructional models generated from classical Latin. However, this process resulted in

a grammar-translation method that lacked language-learning and linguistic theories that were particular to TCSL.

Emphasizing reading, pedagogy in this period was heavily influenced by the methodological and research achievements of Sinology, particularly in the areas of Chinese character studies, lexicology, bilingual dictionary compilation, grammatical analysis from an Indo-European point of view, and Romanization of words (Zhang 2009). This tradition is still alive and well in classical Chinese TCSL instruction (Tsai 2015). Like their forebears, classical Chinese textbooks in Asia and North America target reading comprehension, with activities guiding learners to apply knowledge via sentence- and whole-text translations into English. Words are treated as the basic unit of learning; sentences illustrating grammatical rules; and translation tasks arranged from classical to modern, or to the learners' native language.

The grammar-translation method and its various modified forms have also been adopted in the teaching of modern Chinese, despite the emergence and popularity of newer methods in the following periods. Its principal techniques can be easily identified from modern Chinese textbooks and classroom practices, including explanation of grammatical rules, illustration of grammar points with detailed examples, provision of vocabulary in the form of bilingual word lists, and translation tasks (Ning 2001). The persistence of this method in TCSL is likely related to its congruence with traditional Chinese language-learning culture and perceptions: specifically, a focus on grammatical structures and lexical items as a teaching core; the control and authority given to teachers; limited requirements for learning resources; and consistency between pedagogical focus and the typological characteristics of the target language (Jin and Cortazzi 2011).

Audiolingualism in TCSL

As the limitations of the grammar-translation method were brought to the attention of practitioners, Y. R. Chao advocated that speaking-skills training be placed at the center of Chinese teaching, and that the special characteristics of the Chinese language should be given special attention (Chao and Huang 1998). Chao transformed his ideas into teaching practice at Harvard as early as 1920s and the University of Hawaii in the 1930s (Zhao 2010). His pioneering work constituted a prelude to the audio-lingual method and continues to influence the field of TCSL.

With the aforementioned shift in the main purpose of TCSL from academic to national-defense purposes, the primary goal of TCSL was to instill competence in speaking and reading the modern vernacular within a short period. The intensive training program adopted the audio-lingual method with the set goals of enabling learners, mostly US government employees, to interpret interviews and conversations, and empowering them to read and translate newspapers and official documents. All work-related graded materials covered commercial, economic, political, and legal topics. Written and spoken language were taught separately, and in the latter case, phonograph records were used to impress sound patterns on the students' minds (Griggs 1948). Native Chinese speakers and an English-speaking 'interpreter-commentator' joined together in the classroom to explain the target language's structures and features (p. 105).

The Design of Systematic Curricula at the College Level

Chinese characters are notoriously time- and energy-consuming for learners whose native languages are alphabetic. Prompted by the success of the audio-lingual method that focuses on spoken language, various Romanization schemas—the Wad-Giles and Yale systems—were developed as representations of Chinese characters' sounds. The intensive training methods inspired by the development and use of these Romanizations forced the TCSL profession to

recognize its need for textbooks (Tsu 1970). DeFrancis's series of beginning, intermediate, and advanced Chinese textbooks published in the 1960s was the first systematic TCSL curriculum established for use in formal education settings. Additional textbook compilations and pedagogical explorations refined the audio-lingual instructional method further (Ning 2001; Tsu 1970). A typical audio-lingual method-based curriculum (a) stresses speaking the modern vernacular (i.e. dialogues at the lower levels) and reading published works at the upper levels; (b) presents Romanized texts, with or without characters; (c) organizes lessons around listening, speaking, reading, and writing skills, as well as basic elements (pronunciation, vocabulary, grammar, and characters), in a fixed order; (d) emphasizes the mimicry of sentence structures and grammatical patterns, to promote students' spoken fluency through rote learning, i.e. modeling, memorization, and drills; and (e) presents cultural knowledge in the form of culture notes (Ning 2001).

Despite the above common understandings, however, the value of teaching Chinese characters remains quite controversial within the audio-lingual tradition. There are three different broad types of audio-lingual treatment, each reflecting a distinct understanding of the cognitive loads and functions of aural/oral versus reading/writing skills (Ning 2001). One is to postpone learners' exposure to Chinese-character texts. The second is to present spoken texts entirely in Romanization, but supplement them with character transcriptions for recognition; and the third is to deliver Chinese characters and Romanizations concurrently. Ultimately, the key argument in favor of the last option—i.e. that a deep understanding of Chinese language and culture cannot afford to bypass a study of the characters and their history (Wooley 1957)—seems to have prevailed. A compelling argument has also been made that the inclusion of characters increases learners' character familiarity without impeding their learning of either speaking or listening skills (Ning 2001).

Integration With Other Methods in Broader Educational Settings

Early TCSL efforts in China were modeled after Chao's audio-lingual approach, but combined with the grammar translation and direct methods to aid the teaching of pronunciation, listening, and speaking (Lu and Zhao 2011). This combination was a means of actualizing a pedagogical assumption: that contrasts and comparisons can render the characteristics of Chinese easier to learn, especially in light of learners' difficulties with Chinese phonology, vocabulary, and grammar. TCSL practitioners of the 1950s and 1960s evolved what could be called a 'mixed methods' approach (Zhao 2010: 245): combining traditional methods, audiolingualism, pattern drills, the direct method, and the functional method, along with a flexible attitude towards teaching methods as a means of gaining access to resources, as opposed to philosophies that must be adhered to rigidly (Zhao 2010).

Communicative Approaches

The TCSL methods employed in the US in the first two periods stressed 'the systematic teaching of Chinese linguistic knowledge rather than . . . language communication skills' (Lu and Zhao 2011: 120–121). US Chinese program curricula in the 1980s were largely determined by textbook content, and students' learning objectives with respect to language skills were rarely defined (Chi 1989). Researchers of that time engaged in extensive discussions of issues relating to linguistic analysis of the language and text selections, but rarely addressed language pedagogy. Speaking and listening were mainly emphasized in lower-level instruction, and there was an overemphasis on the reading of modern non-technical writing—chiefly essays, short stories, and newspaper articles—across all levels (Chi 1989).

The Debate on Proficiency-Oriented Instruction

Chi's observations led him to advocate for a proficiency-oriented program, aimed at training students to use Chinese in real-life situations and to function in Chinese independently of the course materials and activities. It adopted the American Council on the Teaching of Foreign Languages (ACTFL) Proficiency Guidelines as its organizing principle. Walker (1989) implemented Chi's framework and highlighted the need to redefine the learning objectives of existing courses and to match them with the ACTFL guidelines, as well as the need to specify instructional and learning goals for function, content, and accuracy.

The proposal and implementation of proficiency-oriented instruction sparked heated debate. Arguing that fundamental distinctions should be drawn between the ACTFL guidelines, as assessment criteria, and curriculum objectives, which relate essentially to instructional procedures, Cui (1994) warned against adopting those guidelines as TCSL curriculum objectives, especially 'without considering the characteristics peculiar to the Chinese language' (p. 65). While language assessment standards may share certain common characteristics with curriculum development criteria, they indeed target learning objectives at different stages instead of defining features in the learning process. Curriculum development requires guidance drawn from language acquisition process. Through a concrete example, Ling (1994) showed the difficulties in defining proficiency for curriculum development purposes. She claimed that 'proficiency' has two levels: one implying a minimal ability to get by in daily life, and the other, functioning on par with native-speaker scholars in an academic setting. In the same study, Ling's students aiming at the lower of these two levels were found not to require an elaborate foundation, whereas those seeking professional and academic proficiency needed a solid infrastructure for language acquisition. Structural analysis and grammar instruction are important in building such infrastructure, and 'mastery of grammatical knowledge gained through systematic instruction in the early stage is a key factor in the development of a student's language-learning expertise' (p. 4).

Incorporating Communicative Principles in Textbooks

This debate inspired TCSL practitioners and scholars to explore innovative principles in their teaching and materials development, as a means of catching up with the communicative and proficiency trends then being widely promoted in foreign-language education more generally. A number of Chinese textbooks published during this period clearly reflect such activity, including *Kaiming Intermediate Chinese* (1987), the first and arguably best example. It is considered a representative textbook with a particular attention paid to the combination of functions, scenarios, and structure (Zhao 2004). Each of its units is constructed around a central topic, which relates the scenarios and activities students may most likely encounter while studying abroad in China. Exercises are constructed based on communicative and task-based approaches. Designed to emulate realistic scenarios, these exercises were a clear improvement over the substitution or expansion drills that had usually appeared in older textbooks.

Though formally an attempt to integrate the best of the grammar-based and communicative methodologies, the popular series in the US, *Integrated Chinese* (1997/2008/2017), remains in effect grammar-translation-based. Each lesson includes a model dialogue and/or a narrative, followed by a vocabulary list and grammar notes. The model texts are situated in a universal context, but intended to be applicable to specific situations (Ning 2001). The communicative dimension of this series is evidenced by the organization of lesson topics such that information gaps can easily be taken advantage of in proficiency-oriented classrooms (Zhou 2011). Since

this series ‘tends to be more palatable to pedagogical traditionalists and less favored by supporters of performance-based instruction’ (Ning 2001: 45), supplemental support for instructors in the form of communicative/task-based exercises is provided online.

Another popular series, *New Practical Chinese Reader* (2000), is a revision of the *Practical Chinese Reader* (1990), at one time the most popular grammar-translation and audio-lingual textbook series. Differing little from its old version, apart from the addition of some communicative tasks, the preserved traditionalism of the new series is probably one of the reasons it has remained so popular; as Zhou (2011) remarked, it gives TCSL teachers ‘the comfort zone they need in classroom applications regardless of their training and pedagogical orientations’ (p. 144).

Reflections on the Status Quo and Probable Future Directions

The preceding discussion has shown that the field of Chinese teaching is relatively conservative, and cautious about joining the pedagogical revolution embodied by mainstream foreign-language education.

Alongside this conservative attitude, however, there exist two radical viewpoints regarding the adoption of communicative methods in the US. The first holds that TCSL development over the past two decades consists largely of catering to trends promoted by mainstream theories, and that as a result, accuracy has been sacrificed in the name of fluency, and language knowledge in the name of language function. On the extreme, Chou (2004) boldly claims that the TCSL field has lost its ability to make its own judgments and decisions. Although such an assessment may be too sensational, it is not entirely ungrounded, considering the views toward mainstream theories mentioned above.

The second view is rooted in dissatisfaction with the ways in which communicative principles have been incorporated into current textbooks. Characterizing the pedagogical pattern of Chinese textbooks as ‘grammar-oriented core within a performance-based shell’ (Ning 2001: 54), Ning appealed to the field to completely replace this conservative paradigm with ‘authentic input taken from live, unrehearsed conversation . . . or (excerpts) from broadcasts and published material, followed by . . . tasks that are as communicative and task-based as possible from the very beginning’ (p. 54). In response to her own call for new texts ‘featuring increasingly diverse pedagogic approaches’ (p. 55), Ning published *Communicating in Chinese* (1993), *Exploring in Chinese* (2007) and *Encounters* (2011), as attempts to put communicative and task-based approaches into practice while meeting the needs of ‘a complex educational universe of increasingly diverse learners’ (p. 55).

In pursuit of a TCSL method that would pay due attention to the special characteristics of the Chinese language, Lu (1981) proposed an approach integrating structure, meaning, and function, and advocated that a structural-functional syllabus be made the foundation of future TCSL efforts. The proposed syllabus focused primarily on the communication needs of students, and arranged sentence patterns and grammar points according to their difficulty levels (Lu 1981). In the 1980s and 1990s, TCSL in China reflected this approach in both classroom teaching and textbook compilation.

As of the 1980s, the TCSL field worldwide also shared a consensus that cultural factors should be a part of Chinese teaching. Cultural components were added to structural-functional syllabi, a clear sign that a method of TCSL with distinctively Chinese characteristics was coming into being (Zhao 2010). New methods have been observed since the 1990s. The foci of research on TCSL has broadly transitioned from teacher-centered to learner-centered processes.

The Post-Communicative Era

The polarized attitudes regarding the incorporation of communicative principles into TCSL reflect the controversy and confusion that have surrounded the communicative method itself in the context of the post-communicative era. It also indicates the incompatibility between the principles of this method and Chinese teaching/learning traditions. Although TCSL specialists thus far have been able to maintain a certain distance from the mainstream theoretical debates in foreign-language teaching, this detachment has not prevented extensive classroom experimentation and practical exploration of new ideas and principles. Innovations in TCSL at both the practical and theoretical levels have drawn upon many schools of thought, often going beyond the communicative paradigm. The representative methods that could be identified included task-based, pragmatic-competence focused, content-based, project-based, cooperative-, strategy-based, and technology-assisted instruction.

Task-Based Instruction

Task-based instruction (TBI) was initially categorized as part of the communicative method. Over the years, however, it has expanded well beyond the communicative terrain, and behaves more and more like an independent TCSL approach. One prominent form of TBI is Wen's (2009/2011) integration of input-based listening and output-based speaking tasks, in which learners receive clear and explicit spoken models with abundant form- and meaning-based comprehensible input, and then are given well-structured tasks based on those models, with communicative goals in mind. Wen recommended that these tasks be diverse in content; authentic in their application; accompanied by immediate feedback; and relevant to the life situations of learners, who should be expected to speak accurately and to perform tasks in a genuine manner. In TBI writing tasks, Jin's (2010) works on the three-stage task cycle (comprising pre, core, and post tasks) revealed that the more complex the tasks, the more learner interaction and negotiation of meaning there would be. Yuan's (2010) implementation confirmed that this approach facilitated learners' production of more words, and a higher percentage of difficult words, in narrative writing under various task conditions.

Promoting Pragmatic Competence

A key feature of TBI is its focus on pragmatic competence, one of the major components of communicative competence. Instruction in pragmatic competence focuses on functional and sociolinguistic aspects, and features authentic language input, explicit instruction in pragmatic factors and strategies, and 'pushed' output in heavily context-dependent situations. Having examined the major elementary-level spoken Chinese textbooks from China, the US, and Great Britain, Tao (2005) pointed out a serious gap between natural speech and such textbooks' constructions of spoken Chinese, and recommended that TCSL be improved via more context-based and context-oriented teaching materials. Responding to those recommendations, Wang (2007) implemented a method of raising pragmatic awareness by directing students to convergences and divergences between natural conversations in Chinese and English in similar communication contexts and topics, and explicitly teaching them the salient pragmatic features of Chinese before having them practice and perform tasks that simulated natural communication. In reading and writing classes, Hong (1998) introduced politeness strategies based on authentic Chinese business correspondence, guiding learners to attend to the speech acts imbedded in

the internal structure of the original letters, along with language forms containing politeness strategies. The participants were expected to implement those politeness strategies and use the linguistic forms in culturally appropriate ways when drafting their own business letters.

Pedagogical research on Chinese pragmatics has enjoyed relatively little attention, and most of its positive findings have been reported based on the results of lab experiments (Yang 2018). In light of its promising findings so far, however, its future contributions to TCSL in the post-communicative era are expected to be important.

Content-Based Instruction

Content-based instruction (CBI) integrates content with language training, in an effort to develop language proficiency alongside mastery of nonlinguistic subject matter, critical thinking, and other cognitive skills (Richards 2017). A typical CBI class provides authentic materials with selected themes, organized in a series of discipline-specific units via lectures, discussions, and reading or listening activities. Through assigned tasks, students demonstrated their ability to meaningfully use the target language, their critical thinking skills, and their content knowledge (Howard 2006). CBI has also been embraced in beginning-level TCSL curricula, such as a unit on Chinese families from which students gained both cultural awareness and Chinese proficiency (Huang 2003). Another study (Jiang 2017) found that, following three weeks of intensive CBI training, not only had students' reading proficiency improved, but their perceptions of reading Chinese had expanded to include 'acquiring knowledge of subject matter, connecting personal experience and academic interest, and improving critical thinking competence' (p. 192).

Instruction in Strategies

Strategy instruction regards the comprehension of a foreign language as an 'active, strategic and constructive process' (Vandergrift and Goh 2009: 402). Strategy instruction focusing on individual language skills—listening, reading, grammatical structure, and Chinese-character knowledge—is a fairly common strand within TCSL.

Many of listening strategies have been built on an assumption that guiding learners in how to listen, read, and recognize will further develop the learning process that is integral to successful listening. Vandergrift and Goh's (2009) integrated model led them to recommend a pedagogical cycle that includes both top-down and bottom-up dimensions, along with metacognitive awareness of the process underlying successful comprehension. A similar approach was implicit in Liu's (2008) strategy of consciousness-training to increase learners' awareness, facilitate their metacognitive knowledge for comprehension, and highlight the importance of knowing the purposes of listening; and in Ke et al.'s (2009) meta-strategic awareness instructional protocol, aimed at developing students' self-regulated learning through the purposeful application of listening strategies.

Chinese-character recognition and word segmentation are critical to alphabetic learners' literacy development, and thus are the most intensively studied areas within TCSL. Ke (2012) was one of the earlier studies on this topic, where it was discovered that nowadays, neither learners nor teachers favor the use of rote repetition or story-creation to aid in memorization as before. This shift in preference is endorsed by research, insofar as learners have performed better when provided with visual and verbal elaborations of information about characters (Shen 2004), including their etymological background and structure, analysis of radicals, and examples of correct word use in different contexts; this promotes the creation of new information based on knowledge stored in the memory, and increases the depth of concept-driven

processing. Shen (2010) later recommended that practice be spaced out, i.e. that students review learning materials in specified time slots separated by quizzes and tests, as part of a regular instructional toolkit. This was not entirely unlike Ke's (2012) proposal for an 'orthographic-awareness' model that divided the character-learning process into three successive stages—the pre-component processing stage, the component processing stage, and the automatic component processing stage—each calling for different pedagogical treatments in instruction (p. 49). Moreover, because learners can employ all the strategies they are offered, instruction about radicals is probably more important to their component processing than etymology instruction is (Zahradnikova 2016).

In the specific sphere of reading strategy, a case study by Jiang (2003) demonstrated the effectiveness of both bottom-up and top-down strategies in completing reading tasks, as well as the importance to the reading process of cognitive strategies at both the micro level (i.e. dividing a long Chinese sentence into small segments) and the macro level (i.e. drawing a semantic map of a paragraph). The same study also emphasized the importance of metacognitive strategies such as evaluating personal reading experiences, writing reflection journals, and summarizing reading processes. Students' reflections indicated that strategy instruction impacted them positively, especially in terms of their ability to confront challenging reading passages.

Techniques for teaching grammar and grammatical structure have evolved dramatically: from mere presentation, to fostering learners' ability to apply such knowledge in oral and written communication. Bai (2008) recommended that teachers scaffold learners' application of grammar rules in meaningful communicative contexts, which would enable Chinese learners to progress from controlled and contextualized practice to automatic language creation after acquiring grammatical structures' semantic, functional, and pragmatic properties. As part of a wider aim of facilitating students' use of appropriate patterns and phrases to communicate, Jin (2004) proposed the learning of *patterned Chinese structures*, referring to phrasal and clausal patterns, and provided empirical evidence that students' communicative competence—in terms of interpretation, expression, and negotiation of meaning—increased when the instruction and practice were constructed around these structures. Li (2004) argued that discourse factors, such as topic chains, should be taught overtly to build learners' communicative competence. Xing (2007) pointed out the importance of strategy training to learners' development of an ability to recognize discourse-level relationships.

Computer-Assisted Language Learning

The advent of digital technology and the wide reach of the internet have further advanced TCSL. In particular, the affordances of computer-assisted language learning (CALL) have broadened the array of teaching methods available to teachers and students of the Chinese language, and various technology-based pedagogical practices are increasingly reshaping methodological principles formed in traditional contexts (Doughty and Long 2003). From rote pronunciation exercises to animations of character strokes, and from wide selections of authentic materials on media in and out of the classroom to virtual individualized practice and exchanges with native speakers in other countries, CALL has facilitated substantial learning opportunities in cyberspace, bringing TCSL learners—and especially those outside Chinese-speaking communities—closer to the Chinese-speaking world. Podcasting, mobile tablets, and smartphones have already augmented Chinese teachers' capacity to make learning Chinese more effective and less strenuous. MOOCs, along with courses utilizing Moodle, Canvas, Blackboard Learn and Google Classroom, have not only extended the geographical reach of traditional Chinese classrooms, but also incited new forms of pedagogy, including blended learning and flipped classrooms. On

the one hand, these and other new technological interventions have completely redefined community building, content management, learning engagement, and the teaching process, granting them unprecedented flexibility, versatility, and capability. On the other hand, the various CALL platforms are providing new environments in which various teaching methods already in use (e.g. TBI, CBI, strategy instruction, and pragmatics teaching) can be remodeled to suit new needs (Xu et al. 2016). And teachers of Chinese are continuing to explore emerging social media platforms such as WeChat, Snapchat, and Instagram. It is clear that CALL demands a re-examination of Chinese language learning and teaching, and that as such, it will bring a vital new dimension to both pedagogical research and classroom practices in TCSL.

Critical Understandings of the Methodological Development of TCSL

Several critical understandings of the methodological development of TCSL can be drawn from the survey presented in this chapter. The present inquiry into this evolution has shown that no one specific TCSL method has remained consistently popular. Rather, TCSL has been an open framework that allows multiple methods to coexist and, in some cases, work together to achieve instructional goals. Methodological evolutions in TCSL have been influenced by political, social, economic, cultural, and international factors, as well as changes in such factors over time.

Inseparable from the wider field of foreign-language education, TCSL is shaped by mainstream pedagogical trends—but only up to a point. The implementation of methodologies that originated in the teaching of any other language must be compatible with the unique characteristics of the Chinese language and the particular needs of Chinese-language learners. As this chapter has revealed, rendering TCSL congruent with mainstream foreign-language teaching approaches has been a slow and uneven process, characterized by considerable difficulty, including active resistance by some scholars and practitioners. Indeed, consensus about how fast and how much TCSL can adopt principles from mainstream trends is still lacking, in part because important questions regarding the extent of such principles' compatibility with TCSL and its instructional goals remain unanswered.

There is no single best or worst method of foreign-language teaching in general, and this holds equally true for TCSL in particular. Every method has merits in some specific sphere of application, and is useful for addressing certain pedagogical issues. Even the 'old' grammar-translation approach still has its place, while the much newer communicative approach hardly qualifies as state-of-the-art, especially in light of its above-mentioned incompatibility with Chinese traditions of learning. In short, it can be argued that the key feature of TCSL across all periods has been the combination of multiple methods, an approach further marked by a reluctance to abandon any method simply because it is old, or because newer ones have come into existence.

This diversified nature of TCSL methods also relates to the multiplicity of student populations, identities and needs; learning contexts; teachers' educational and training backgrounds; and curricular and teaching methodologies. Globalization has been identified as a major driving force for this diversity (Moloney and Xu 2016). It is hard to disagree; as more students become learners of Chinese, heavier demands are placed on teachers and curriculum designers to better meet the disparate learning goals of their various educational contexts.

Future Directions

This chapter's review and survey suggest that, despite its relatively restrained pace of change, TCSL has progressed considerably over recent decades. Based on the past development and

current trajectory, it can be predicted that the future in the post-communicative era is likely to take one of three possible directions.

First, TCSL will continue to integrate promising new approaches and techniques into its existing instructional practices. These might include input-based learning (Ellis 2005), personalized learning (Pogorskiy 2015), design-based instruction (Design-Based Research Collective 2003), project-based learning (Kokotsaki et al. 2016), and/or integrated performance assessment (Adair-Hauck et al. 2013). These new methodologies offer extensive scope for input and output; noteworthy in this regard is a project-based endeavor by Wang (2019) that features a post-communicative approach with inductive exposure; connections among individual language skills; and learners' use of Chinese to address and resolve real-world issues pertinent to their interests.

Second, TCSL is likely to build a more comprehensive understanding of its own methodologies through rigorous research on Chinese acquisition, an area that has hitherto largely focused on individual skills. The present review has shown that, as compared to research on the teaching and acquisition of most other widely spoken languages, work on TCSL has paid less attention to theory building and to learners' cognitive processes, attitudes, needs, affective factors, and learning contexts (see also Wang and Ruan 2016). Extensive new research on these aspects would provide TCSL professionals with a better and deeper understanding of Chinese-learning processes, while also sensitizing them to learners' personal, social, and cognitive needs. More importantly, it would expose teachers to new pedagogical concepts and ideas, thereby motivating them to adopt such innovations—or indeed, to create new ones—in their classroom instruction (Han 2016). It can be expected that empirical studies, action research, and motivated reflections on TCSL, along with insights gleaned from second-language studies in general, will help create a rich repository of Chinese teaching methodologies, a much-needed resource that would undoubtedly benefit all stakeholders in the TCSL field.

Third, new technologies will increasingly support TCSL. If there is a revolutionary breakthrough in teaching methodology, it is perhaps most likely to emerge from CALL. Technology has already taken a leading role in the realization of customized, individualized, and autonomous learning, which arise from a set of ideal principles for teaching and learning. These areas of technology-assisted revolutionary change can include corpus-based, data-driven instruction, and learning through virtual reality, given that technologies have integrated m(obile)-learning into e-learning and are evolving into u(biquitous)-learning environments, making Chinese learning available on an 'anywhere, anytime' basis. As such, CALL will not only be instrumental in the expansion of and innovation in Chinese-language learning *per se*, but also help to build learners' multiliteracies and intercultural communicative competence.

References

English References

- Adair-Hauck, B., Glisan, E. W. and Troyan, F. J. (2013) *Implementing Integrated Performance Assessment*. Alexandria, VA: The American Council on the Teaching of Foreign Languages.
- Bai, J. (2008) *Chinese Grammar Made Easy: A Practical and Effective Guide for Teachers*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- Bianco, J. L. (2011) 'Chinese: The gigantic up-and comer'. In Linda Tsung and Ken Cruickshank (eds.), *Teaching and Learning Chinese in Global Contexts: Multimodality and Literacy in the New Media Age*, xiii–xxiv. New York: Continuum.
- Chi, T. R. (1989) 'Observations on the past, present, and future of teaching Chinese as a foreign language'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 24(2): 109–122.

- Cui, S. R. (1994) 'Taking ACTFL guidelines as curriculum objectives: Some considerations'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 29(2): 47–69.
- Design-Based Research Collective. (2003) 'Design-based research: An emerging paradigm for educational inquiry'. *Educational Researcher* 32(1): 5–8.
- Doughty, C. J. and Long, M. H. (2003) 'Optimal psycholinguistic environments for distance foreign language learning'. *Language Learning and Technology* 7(3): 50–80.
- Ellis, R. (2005) 'Principles of instructed language learning'. *System* 33(2): 209–224.
- Griggs, T. (1948) 'Chinese language program for foreign service officers'. *The Modern Language Journal* 32(2): 101–107.
- Han, Z. (2016) 'Research meets practice: Holding off and holding on'. *Chinese as a Second Language* 51(3): 236–251.
- Hong, W. (1998) 'Politeness strategies in Chinese business correspondence and their teaching applications'. *Foreign Language Annals* 31(3): 315–325.
- Howard, J. (2006) 'Models of integrating content and language learning'. *Journals of NCOLCTL* 10(3): 61–83.
- Hu, G. (2002) 'Potential cultural resistance to pedagogical imports: The case of communicative language teaching in China'. *Language Culture and Curriculum* 15(2): 93–105. doi.org/10.1080/07908310208666636.
- Huang, J. (2003) 'Chinese as a foreign language in Canada: A content-based program for elementary school'. *Language, Culture and Curriculum* 16(1): 70–89.
- Jiang, S. (2017) 'The impacts of theme-based language instruction: A case study of an advanced Chinese intensive program'. *Journals of NCOLCTL* 21(1): 167–208.
- Jin, H. (2010) 'Task complexity and its effects on interaction and production: An experimental study of task-based instruction'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 45(2): 101–135.
- Jin, L. and Cortazzi, M. (2011) 'Re-evaluating traditional approaches to second language teaching and learning'. In Eli Hinkel (ed.), *Handbook of Research in Second Language Teaching and Learning*. Vol. II, 558–575. New York: Routledge.
- Ke, C. (2012) 'Research in second language acquisition of Chinese: Where we are, where we are going'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 47(3): 43–113.
- Kokotsaki, D., Menzies, V. and Wiggins, A. (2016) 'Project-based learning: A review of the literature'. *Improving Schools* 19(3): 267–277. Further information on publisher's website: <https://doi.org/10.1177/1365480216659733>.
- Kumaravivelu, B. (2003) *Beyond Methods: Macrostrategies for Language Teaching*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- Li, W. (2004) 'The discourse perspective in teaching Chinese grammar'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 39(1): 25–44.
- Lindeck, J. M. (1971) *Understanding China: An Assessment of American Scholarly Resources*. New York: Praeger Publishers.
- Ling, V. (1994) 'The proficiency issue—Why all the fuss?' *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 29(2): 31–45.
- Liskin-Gasparro, J. E. (1982) *ETS Oral Proficiency Testing Manual*. Princeton, NJ: Educational Testing Service.
- Lu, J. and Zhao, Y. (2011) 'Teaching Chinese as a foreign language in China: A profile'. In Linda Tsung and Ken Cruickshank (eds.), *Teaching and Learning Chinese in Global Contexts: Multimodality and Literacy in the New Media Age*, 118–130. New York: Continuum.
- Lu, Y. (ed.) (2017) *Teaching and Learning Chinese in Higher Education: Theoretical and Practical Issues*. London: Routledge.
- Ma, X., Gong, Y., Gao, X. and Xiang, Y. (2017) 'The teaching of Chinese as a second or foreign language: A systematic review of the literature 2005–2015'. *Journal of Multilingual and Multicultural Development* 38(9): 815–830.
- Moloney, R. and Xu, H. (2016) 'Taking the initiative to innovate: Pedagogies for Chinese as a foreign language'. In Robyn Moloney and Hui L. Xu (eds.), *Exploring Innovative Pedagogy in the Teaching and Learning of Chinese as a Foreign Language*, 1–17. New York: Springer.

- Ning, C. (2001) 'Second-language studies and college-level Chinese-language textbooks in the United States'. *China Review International* 8(1): 34–56.
- Norman, J. (1988) *Chinese*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Pogorskiy, E. (2015) 'Using personalisation to improve the effectiveness of global educational projects'. *E-Learning and Digital Media* 12(1): 57–67.
- Richards, J. and Rogers, T. (2014) *Approaches and Methods in Language Teaching*, 3rd edn. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Richards, J. C. (2017) 'Curriculum approaches in language teaching'. In Eli Hinkle (ed.), *Handbook of Research in Second Language Teaching and Learning*, 117–131. London: Routledge.
- Shen, H. H. (2004) 'Level of cognitive processing: Effects on Character learning among non-native learners of Chinese as a foreign language'. *Language and Education* 18: 167–182.
- Shen, H. H. (2010) 'Analysis of radical knowledge development among beginning CFL learners'. In Michael E. Everson and Helen H. Shen (eds.), *Research among Learners of Chinese as a Foreign Language*, 45–65. Honolulu: University of Hawai'i at Mānoa, National Foreign Language Resource Center.
- Simons, G. and Fennig, C. (eds.) (2018) *Ethnologue: Languages of the World*, 21st edn. Dallas, TX: SIL International. Online version: www.ethnologue.com.
- Tao, H. (2005) 'The gap between natural speech and spoken Chinese teaching material: Discourse perspectives on Chinese'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 40(2): 1–24.
- Tsu, J. (1970) 'The teaching of Chinese in colleges and schools of the United States'. *The Modern Language Journal* 54(8): 562–579.
- Tsung, L. T. and Cruickshank, K. (eds.) (2011) *Teaching and Learning Chinese in Global Contexts: Multimodality and Literacy in the New Media Age*. New York: Continuum.
- Vandergrift, L. and Goh, C. (2009) 'Teaching and testing listening comprehension'. In Michael H. Long and Catherine J. Doughty (eds.), *The Handbook of Language Teaching*, 395–411. Chichester, UK: Wiley-Blackwell.
- Walker, G. L. (1989) 'Intensive Chinese curriculum: The EASLI model'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 24(2): 43–83.
- Wang, H. (2007) 'Integrating pragmatics into CFL teaching'. In Yongping Zhu and Ted Yao (eds.), *Selected Papers from the 5th International Conference on Chinese Language and Pedagogy*, 223–232. Beijing: World Publishing Company.
- Wang, H. (2019) 'Sustainability in post-communicative advanced Chinese courses: Engaging learners in real-world issues'. In Charlotte Melin (ed.), *Foreign Language Teaching and the Environment: Theory, Curricula, Institutional Structures*, 163–181. New York: The Modern Language Association.
- Wang, S. (2010) 'Chinese language education in the United States: A historical overview and future directions'. In Jianguo Chen, Chuan Wang and Jinfa Cai (eds.), *Teaching and Learning Chinese: Issues and Perspectives*, 3–32. Charlotte, NC: Information Age Publishing.
- Wang, W. and Ruan, J. (2016) 'Historical overview of Chinese language education for speakers of other languages in China and the United States'. In Jiening Ruan, Jie Zhang and Cynthia B. Leung (eds.), *Chinese Language Education in the United States*, 1–28. New York: Springer.
- Wen, X. (2009/2011) 'Teaching listening and speaking: An interactive approach'. In Michael E. Everson and Yun Xiao (eds.), *Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language*, 131–150. Boston, MA: Cheng and Tsui Company.
- Wooley, L. G. (1957) 'Studying Chinese today'. *The Modern Language Journal* 41(7): 324–329.
- Yang, L. (2018) 'Pragmatics learning and teaching in L2 Chinese'. In Chuanren Ke (ed.), *The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Second Language Acquisition*, 261–278. London: Routledge.
- Yuan, F. (2010) 'Impacts of task conditions on learners' output in L2 Chinese narrative writing'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 45(1): 1–22.
- Zahradnikova, M. (2016) 'A qualitative inquiry of character learning strategies by Chinese L2 beginners'. *Chinese as a Second Language* 51(2): 117–137.
- Zhou, M. (2011) 'Globalization and language order: Teaching Chinese as a foreign language in the United States'. In Linda Tsung and Ken Cruickshank (eds.), *Teaching and Learning Chinese in Global Contexts: Multimodality and Literacy in the New Media Age*, 132–149. New York: Continuum.

Chinese References

- Chao, Xinna and Huang, Peiyun 赵新娜, 黄培云 (1998) 赵元任年谱 (The Chronical of Yuen Ren Chao). Beijing: The Commercial Press.
- Chou, Chih-Ping 周质平 (2004) ‘美国汉语教学的隐忧’ (Concerns for the Chinese teaching in the U.S.). 国外汉语教学动态 (International Chinese Language Teaching) 5(1): 41–44.
- Jiang, Song 姜松 (2003) ‘中文第二语言阅读策略教学与阅读能力’ (L2 Chinese reading strategy instruction and reading proficiency). In World Chinese Language Association (WCLA) (ed.), 第七届世界华语教学研讨会论文集 *Proceedings of the Seventh WCLA Conference Vol 7, Applied Teaching*, 10–31. Taipei: Taiwan.
- Jin, Honggang 靳洪刚 (2004) ‘语言定式教学法在中文习得和中文教学中的作用’ (The role of formulaic speech in teaching and learning patterned Chinese structures). *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 39(1): 45–62.
- Ke, Chuanren, Cai, Zhenhui, Gu, Lin and Huang, Yici 柯传仁, 蔡真慧, 顾琳, 黄懿慈 (2009) 汉语听力教学 (The Teaching of Chinese Listening Comprehension). Beijing: Peking University Press.
- Liu, Songhao 刘颂浩 (2008) 汉语听力教学理论与方法 (Theories and Methods of Teaching Chinese Listening Comprehension). Beijing: Peking University Press.
- Lu, Bisong 吕必松 (1981) ‘语言教学中结构、意义和功能的结合’ (Integrating structure, meaning and function in language pedagogy). *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 16(2): 1–16.
- Tsai, Jung-Chih 蔡蓉之 (2015) ‘对外华语之文言文教材研究’ (*Research of Classical Chinese Textbook for Non-native Learners*). Unpublished dissertation, Taipei: National Taiwan Normal University. Retrieved from <http://hdl.handle.net/11296/esca7s> on May 27, 2018.
- Xing, Zhiqun 邢志群 (2007) ‘对外汉语教学培训——篇章教学’ (Instruction and acquisition of discourse competence). In Cui Xiliang 崔希亮编著 (ed.), 汉语教学——海内外的互动与互补 (Chinese Language Instruction—Interaction Between China and Abroad), 390–413. Beijing: The Commercial Press.
- Xu, Debao et al. 许德宝主编 (eds.) (2016) 美国科技与中文教学 (Technology and Chinese Language Teaching in the U.S.). Beijing: China Social Science Press.
- Zhang, Xiping 张西平 (ed.) (2009) 世界汉语教育史 (The History of Chinese Education in the World). Beijing: The Commercial Press.
- Zhao, Jinming 赵金铭 (ed.) (2004) 对外汉语教学概论 (A Survey of Teaching Chinese as a Second Language). Beijing: The Commercial Press.
- Zhao, Jinming 赵金铭 (2010) ‘对外汉语教学法回视与再认识’ (Review and Re-evaluation of the methodology in teaching Chinese as a foreign language). 世界汉语教学 (Chinese Teaching in the World) 24(2): 243–254.

Teaching Content, Developing Language in CLIL Chinese

Jane Orton

Introduction

The expansion of China as a world power has increasingly led to Chinese being chosen for primary school language programs in English-speaking countries, often taught in immersion mode. Three hours of instruction a week is not uncommon and in the United States, dual-language programs with ratios as high as 90 percent of total school time in Chinese to 10 percent in English have been established in certain states. In Australia, 'bilingual programs' (10 or more hours per week in a second/foreign language) or 'enhanced language programs' (3–5 hours per week of a second/foreign language) make up a small but growing number of the new Chinese primary programs. Similar programs have begun to appear in the United Kingdom. While stories have been popular content in teaching European languages, many of the new Chinese language programs draw content from subjects in the regular curriculum. To date only a very few secondary immersion Chinese programs have been established, but clearly more will soon be needed.

CLIL

In their choice of subject teaching method, Australian and British programs have been influenced by the 'Content and Language Integrated Learning' (CLIL) approach adopted by the European Network of Administrators, Researchers, and Practitioners (EUROCLIC) in the mid 1990s as the means of rapidly developing multilingualism in the European Union (Zarobe and Catalán 2009: xi). At that time, the term *CLIL* denoted 'any activity in which a foreign language is used as a tool in the learning of a non-language subject in which both language and the subject have a joint role' (Marsh 2002: 58). In more recent years, proponents have tightened the definition of CLIL to involve commitment to Coyle's *4C's Framework*, which 'focuses on the interrelationship between content (subject matter), communication (language), cognition (learning and thinking) and culture (social awareness of self and "otherness")' and integrates these different levels (Coyle 2007: 550). The purpose of defining the term in this way, Coyle said, was in order 'to position CLIL alongside bilingual education, content-based instruction, immersion and so on' and

distinguish it from these approaches in its emphasis on integration, ‘where both language and content are conceptualised on a continuum without an implied preference for either’ (p. 549). Despite these strong claims to the term CLIL, it is still used by some to describe programs that would more accurately belong to EUROCLIC’s looser definition or fit under the even earlier Canadian-American term ‘content-based instruction’. Dale and Tanner (2012: 3), for example, define CLIL simply as ‘a dual-focused approach in which an additional language is used for the learning and teaching of both content *and* language’. Furthermore, advocates of the 4C’s Framework such as Cross (2014), and even Coyle, herself (2014), have been clear in pointing out that CLIL is ‘a flexible approach’ and that there are no certainties when it comes to employing it in new settings. The need for this flexibility has been very evident in the past five years as CLIL Chinese expanded rapidly in various settings and found itself facing challenges hitherto unmet in CLIL development through the teaching of European languages.

Why Choose CLIL?

The arguments in favor of employing CLIL for intensive teaching of a second language often rest on the premise that just increasing the time per week spent learning from a typical second language textbook will not allow sufficient processing for an equally increased quantity of new language to be learned. Extending the time on language learning thus entails changing the content being taught. Regular subject matter from within the existing school curriculum is deemed suitable because it can be appropriately paced and offers several other benefits as well. These benefits were identified by Widdowson (1978: 15), who proposed that, first, the depth and nature of the content would allow students to do in language class what they do in their other classes: learn about real-life matters. This would make language learning meaningful and hence students would be more interested, and this in turn would increase motivation and enhance acquisition. Second, using authentic texts as CLIL material would offer students the chance to work from the start on the language and discourse forms which were the objective of their study long term. Third, linking the new language with actions and illustrations, not English, would create a meaning base for the language grounded in reality, which would improve understanding and retention. And, finally, increased time would further allow it to be better learned and retained.

In addition to these benefits of CLIL that Chinese shares with other languages, the expected outcomes listed above directly address two of the key challenges of Chinese language learning: the need for more time because it takes considerably longer for an English speaker to master Chinese than to master a European second language; and the need to increase motivation through higher interest levels and greater success, which could reverse the typically low retention of Chinese learners due to their finding the work involved repetitious and feeling that they are not progressing.

Establishing a CLIL Chinese Program

Whole School Venture

Administering a program of this type [elementary Chinese-English immersion] is highly rewarding and equally challenging. Issues related to building a cohesive school climate, selecting and supervising school staff and articulation of the curriculum are often strongly influenced by cultural differences and district and state requirements
(Patterson 2007)

There are a number of documents offering advice to anyone wanting to set up a CLIL program, including some that concern Chinese specifically (Patterson 2007; Cross with Gearon 2013; Fielding and Harbon 2014; Sykes, Forrest, and Carpenter undated; Asia Society 2017). All make clear that a successful program will need dialogue to be created among the key stakeholders: parents, community, school leaders (and school system/board), school staff, subject area teachers, and Chinese teachers.

School Stakeholders

Introducing a CLIL program is an intrusion into the regular school program, which impacts other teachers in terms of timetabling and the choice of content to be taught in Chinese. Many published proponents of CLIL assume that there will be team teaching of the content between a content specialist and a language specialist, but the Chinese teacher may also be a content specialist, or at least sufficiently trained in the area to teach it independently. In this case collaboration is needed only in deciding the areas of the subject to be taught in Chinese and in consultation as to the order and pacing of student work. Research by Fielding and Harbon (2014) shows that the success of this collaboration is vital to the success of the program. Their respondents were also firm that incremental implementation [adding a year at a time] is the only feasible model in the early stages of introducing CLIL programs (p. 24).

Direct teacher support from expert language teachers, assistants able to help with resource creation, and networking with immersion teachers in other schools, are also frequently advocated to keep a program going and prevent teacher burn out (Fielding and Harbon 2014). As programs mature there may also be a need for rejuvenation, especially where some of the original people involved have moved on (Fielding and Harbon 2017).

If the choice of subjects to be taught in Chinese is to be accepted, school leaders need to promote the program well in advance and ensure it is embraced as a whole school project not just a supplementary exercise carried out in one corner of the institution. School leaders also need the skills to manage intercultural issues that are likely to arise between those who teach in Chinese and those who teach in English. The latter often experience a loss of ownership of their field and a concern about the direction and standards that may be applied when parts of their subject are taught by another teacher. In countries where there is proficiency testing of reading and mathematics during primary schooling, teachers whose time with the students may be shortened due to introduction of the Chinese CLIL program can also be concerned about and even hostile to it, even when they are not sharing subject content directly. Chinese teachers usually find the content areas they are working in are well furnished with curriculum documents and assessment procedures and standards. Publicly available documentation for CLIL Chinese, however, is still scarce and this can make collaboration with English-medium teachers difficult. As well, the necessary engagement among staff requires time be allocated for them to meet regularly, and the budgetary implications of this must be built into the CLIL program plan from the start.

Parents

Parents of primary and secondary CLIL students worry about the standard their child will reach in the content area compared to those studying it in English, and the potentially negative effect on their child's English-language development if several hours per week are spent on learning in Chinese. The research response to these questions is longstanding and consistent: while achievement takes longer at the start because there is more to learn, English proficient primary students

(Years K–6) are capable of achieving as well as, and in some cases better than, non-immersion peers on standardized measures of reading and mathematics, and these findings apply to students from a range of socioeconomic and ethnic backgrounds (Fortune 2012). There is also evidence of language skill transfer between the two languages, so that English proficient primary students learning even a character-based language such as Chinese will keep pace academically with peers in English-medium programs. As well, English proficient students will develop a superior grip on their second language, especially in comprehension (Fortune 2012). Subsequent studies (e.g. Steele et al. 2015) have supported the potential for academic advantage for students in an immersion language program. Research on outcomes at secondary level (Years 7–12), however, has yet to be published.

In her close critical reading of research available at the time, Harrop (2012) confirmed that the claims for CLIL achievements were, to a large degree, substantiated by the evidence, but she warned that there were also clear limitations to their realization stemming from theoretical and methodological shortcomings in CLIL (p. 67). Key among these she noted was the lack of explicit attention to work on form in language. Both Cross (2014) and Coyle (2014) assert that language goals and work on form are integral to CLIL design.

There is not as yet much specifically on the outcomes that might be expected of a CLIL Chinese program, but one five-year study in California (Padilla et al. 2013) shows solid results in Chinese, English reading, and mathematics for over 90 percent of the more than 100 learners involved.

A fourth and common area parents ask about is what they can do to help their child learn the content and the language. Very few have ever learned Chinese or know much about it and tones, Pinyin and characters all create barriers to their easy participation. This request has prompted a range of responses at the local level. For example, in a 2016 information session at Wesley College in Melbourne, Australia it was advocated that parents:

1. Respect Chinese as a language—it is not a funny version of English, but an independent way of representing reality. Don't ask your child to translate everything as if only English connects to reality. Instead, ask how to say things in Chinese.
2. Don't undermine the value of language learning even if you were not strong in languages or find Chinese unfamiliar.
3. Don't expect too much too soon.
4. Learn with them.

In several schools Chinese-speaking parents have voluntarily prepared supplementary resources such as games, songs, and stories based on what the children are learning at school, and made these available on line to everyone involved. More formally, in the US the Mandarin Immersion Parents Council has published a parents' guide (Weise 2014).

School leaders are critically important in helping to manage the concerns of parents. To be effective, they need to understand how the program works and be able to convincingly endorse the value of offering it in their school.

Designing a CLIL Chinese Course

To date CLIL Chinese courses are designed, written, and resourced by individual teachers and although many are generous with sharing their work, in reality most teachers need to provide material for themselves.

The primary tasks are:

1. Analyzing the mainstream curriculum from a second language teaching and learning perspective.
2. Mapping target language scope and sequence plans against curriculum content.
3. Diagnosing and assessing students' language needs and profiles.
4. Sourcing, translating, and creating specialist language teaching resources for curriculum content in the target language classroom.
5. Collaborating with content-area colleagues from non-Language departments (Cross with Gearon 2013: 48).

Planning, writing, and resourcing their course and designing assessment procedures take CLIL Chinese teachers a great deal of time. The volume and complexity of these tasks require the teachers be released from a regular schedule of teaching. They also need time allocated for meetings among themselves and with content area teachers. Provision for such deep planning impacts the school budget, and unless clearly explained and understood can lead to other staff feeling that the Chinese teachers are being unjustifiably privileged (e.g. Prescott and Zhang 2017: 22). In fact the time allocated for course development is rarely enough and, at least in the initial phase, most CLIL teachers work well beyond their paid hours to ensure a new course is planned and resourced. As a result, they can rightly feel resentful if there is any suggestion that their load is lighter than is due. The solution to this relies on leaders in the school being clear what is required to establish and maintain a Chinese CLIL program and supporting the timetabling for course development and staff collaboration.

A further issue in planning is that few Chinese teachers have been trained to teach CLIL or taught to design and resource an entire course—indeed many are fairly inexperienced in classroom teaching of any kind. At the same time, few of those who might assist them as CLIL experts are familiar with Chinese language, and little of what is publicly available among CLIL resources has been produced specifically to teach Chinese. While a certain amount of material produced for the teaching of other languages can be of use for Chinese, it has a number of special challenges that mean most material must at least be adapted if not rewritten if it is to be suitable for Chinese.

Design Issues in CLIL Chinese

Learning Demands

The factors that make it necessary to adapt existing CLIL curricula documents, resources, and practices for Chinese, or to create whole new ones, are the burden on memory due to the quantity and kind of new vocabulary and characters needing to be learned in Chinese, the tonal nature of the spoken language, and the unique demands of developing Chinese literacy. In European languages, and even Japanese and Indonesian, there is less vocabulary to be learned in total, and a great many cognates which assist with knowing and remembering new language. Longer, and made up of a wide variety of sounds, the words of other languages are more familiar to English speakers and hence more easily retained than the two- and three-letter morphemes of Chinese which are composed of a very limited number of sounds and numerous homophones and so sound alike and look alike in their romanized form (e.g. *xú, xúe, xí, xié, xià, xiàn, xiàng*). Students need careful instruction in reading and writing characters and frequent engagement

with them if they are to be recognized and remembered. Because of these constraints, CLIL Chinese teachers find existing material for the teaching of other languages assumes an unrealizable speed and ease of written work based on the presumption that once the basics of reading and writing in the new language have been learned, students will be able to read aloud and write down virtually any new word they encounter.

Most CLIL Chinese programs delay the introduction of reading and writing to very young learners until after the students have established some control over these skills in their mother tongue, although some characters may be introduced beside pictures in story books. Moreover, because research has shown that reading will develop more strongly if it is supported by aural recognition of the language (e.g. Koda 2005; Grabe 2009; Everson 2009), the first phase of a CLIL Chinese course is oral-based. Subsequently, and even where the students are stable in their first-language literacy skills from the start, literacy in Chinese may follow a separate line of development, not directly linked to work being done orally. This allows the writing system to be presented as a *system*, albeit a complex one, whereas learning characters in the order in which words appear in the oral discourse of lessons leads to a very haphazard introduction to characters, which makes mastery more difficult. In a dedicated set of literacy lessons, the features of characters and the form and arrangement of components can be methodically introduced and grasped, developing a competence fundamental to efficient learning and eventual mastery of the system.

Sourcing and Teaching Content

The content of CLIL lessons is based on the knowledge it is intended to teach, which may be researched in school textbooks written in English or Chinese. The internet is also often a useful source of content information. From these samples, one or more texts are created which contain the content knowledge that will be taught. Lessons are scaffolded to present orally the various concepts in the content, using language that introduces the objects, actions, processes, outcomes, and attitudes involved. A broad topic, or one with a lot of new vocabulary, will have several introduction phases undertaken in stages. Chinese is used exclusively in class with meaning conveyed visually through actions, mime and illustrations, and students show comprehension by pointing to actual or illustrated objects, sequences and outcomes, or by manipulating actual or model objects. Supported by the large volume of research showing that physical movement accompanying speech strongly assists comprehension and retention of new language (e.g. Goldin Meadow 2005; Tellier 2008), they then practice the new language by speaking as they do or mime the actions, and by giving one another commands and acting out what has been asked (e.g. Orton and Cui 2013).

New language needed for the content area can be introduced in a different context from that in which it will eventually be used in the study of the content area. Thus, for example, new vocabulary such as numbers and colors, possessives and comparisons, may be taught initially with reference to objects in the classroom. This will involve real interactions and action, not just pre-teaching a vocabulary list. Other language needed for the management of movements and activities in the classroom and some courtesies will also be taught.

Language Development

Subject areas such as Science, Social Sciences and Mathematics have their own discourse forms and samples of these need to be provided and studied in language classes to support the work in the content area. (Shum 2010; Orton, Zhang and Cui 2017). This specialization, however, can

cause problems for students' development of more common language. CLIL topics in General Science or Mathematics often include a high volume of very specific vocabulary, for example: 盐酸, 本生灯, 火成岩, 沉积岩, 脊椎动物, 无脊椎动物, 二次方程, 斜边 (*hydrochloric acid/ Bunsen burner, igneous rock, sedimentary rock, vertebrate, invertebrate, quadratic equations/ hypotenuse*). Each must be learned in turn and in Chinese they involve learning new characters as well. But as they refer so specifically to the particular item, most do not reappear in later topics, so there is very little cumulative gain in learning them, and their infrequency also makes them easily forgotten. When the burden on memory in learning Chinese is already so high, this makes for a low yield from the time and energy spent on such vocabulary. The range of expressions used in specific areas of study can also be fairly narrow and simple in structure. Shifting from topic to topic provides a great many opportunities to repeat basics such as 'This is a Y, that is a Z', but less elaboration than one might find in a narrative account. While the order of structures introduced will come from the content being learned, the Chinese teacher must become adept at recycling earlier structures, vocabulary, and characters in the language study periods, ensuring a full range of grammatical structures are met, and that development in control of gradually more complex discourse structures occurs. In addition to the content specific Chinese corpus they are to learn, students learn the language needed for classroom activities such as participating in discussions and giving explanations.

Teaching CLIL Chinese

Actual teaching practices to support CLIL programs derive from best practice proposed in teaching the content area (e.g. *Australian Curriculum: Science, ACARA 2015*) and foreign-language teaching and learning (e.g. *ACTFL Proficiency Guidelines 2012*).

CLIL Lesson Structure

There is no single way to teach a CLIL lesson or Unit of Work and different topics and subject areas lend themselves differently to being presented. All, however, introduce some kind of text, spoken or written. One line of development is to start with an introduction to the content as a whole—a video, for example, introducing the broad sweep of Egyptian civilization or issues in sustainability—which is then dealt with aspect by aspect. Another line of development is to start with one piece of the content—an introduction to the equipment for a science experiment and its function, or the first step in a sequenced mathematics exercise—which is gradually added to so as to build a whole process. Initial texts may be a series of stand-alone simple sentences, which together present a coherent piece of content knowledge: a *simple account* (Widdowson 1978). By the end of the Unit of Work, students will be able to state or read a series of these texts, which together will comprehensively deal with the whole topic. As appropriate to their level of language and literacy development, students will work on the creation of discourse by first joining sentences, and then creating paragraphs from the sets of sentences, and, finally, linking the various paragraphs into a single, coherent account. Between the start and this final activity students will work on the structures and vocabulary of the texts, as well as on the content information.

New topics in CLIL are usually introduced in an immersion style, using only Chinese and conveying meaning through actions, mime, and illustrations. Student participation is elicited at once and they are also invited to match words with actions. They practice in pairs and small groups using their own equipment or toys or paper substitutes. The teacher watches and listens,

noting the appropriate actions accompanying the words and intervening if required. As students learn the phrases, they are taught to polish their utterances, getting the phrasing right and stressing certain words by giving only them full tonal value—e.g. **zhèi shì běnshēngdēng** (这是本生灯), not an overstressed *zhèi shì běn shēng dēng* (这是本生灯); and the whole utterance held together by appropriate intonation, in the case of this declarative sentence the voice falling towards the end while still producing a first tone for *dēng*.

Various activities, including games, formal exercises, and Question and Answer exchanges, are undertaken to provide sufficient engagement with content and language for them to be learned. The teacher may help reinforce meaning by deliberately getting something wrong, asking for example, “酸是倒在盘子里的吗?” (*do you put the acid into the dish*) which would require students to correct the statement: “不, 是倒在试管里的” (*no, you put it into the test tube*). Vocabulary is recycled through a warm up game at the start of each lesson. New reading texts can be constructed using the individual sentences and paragraphs, so that by the end of the Unit students are reading a comprehensive account of the content knowledge which they have not seen before as a whole. Leading up to this, a variety of written exercises can be undertaken that draw their attention to how the language constructs the knowledge. Unless quite advanced, students will also need to continue direct work on script and the writing of any complex new characters. Both reading and writing material will provide instruction in the creation of genres appropriate to the subject matter. Question and answer activities can be directed to work on register, requiring recounting the formal academic activity or information in more everyday language, and vice versa. While Chinese is used exclusively in content lessons, in many programs, one lesson a week or a fortnight may be set aside for using English to provide meta-linguistic information about literacy development, translanguage study involving noting and comparing, for example, word-formation, word order, and discourse structures in their two languages, and reflection on learning and how to learn. An assignment involving the content knowledge executed in oral and/or written Chinese (depending on the students’ level of schooling) would normally be set as a summative assessment task.

To illustrate the above outline, a sample of a CLIL Chinese Unit of Science taught to junior secondary students is presented here. The students were native English speakers who had graduated from a seven-year primary school program in which they had undertaken 10 hours a week of curriculum work taught in Chinese and had completed one year of secondary school in which they had studied CLIL Chinese Science and Social Studies. They knew approximately 1,200 characters.

Teaching Design for a Unit of Work: CELLS

[Created and Taught by Yin Zhang, Auburn High School, Victoria, Australia]

Outline

1. Select core content based on Year 8 Science, Victorian State Curriculum
2. Sequence the topics of the Unit: different types of living things > form and function of cells > use of microscope > animal and plant cell structures > cell division: mitosis > different types of cells in the human body
3. Generate Simple Account(s) = texts which contain all the basic knowledge to be mastered
4. Choose experiments relevant to the content: e.g. how to use microscopes; observing animal and plant cells; different stages of mitosis
5. Find/design materials to illustrate, consolidate, and assess learning: visuals; videos; worksheets; objects for simulation.

Researching the Topic

Work from full texts in books and online to create a composite text comprising the fundamental science that needs to be taught:

间期：细胞开始分裂的准备阶段。细胞内部开始了一系列代谢活。细胞核内的主要遗传物质DNA从一份加倍形成两份，这个过程称为复制。复制不断地进行。这段时间一般为8–30小时，有时可达60小时。

前期：细胞核内不规则的染色体开始形成线状染色单体，然后变，核仁消失，核膜也逐渐消失。中心体也分成两个，并向细胞两侧移动，形成纺垂丝和纺垂体。此时每个染色单体纵列，形成有自己着丝点的完整的染色单体。

中期：染色体分布着纺垂体中部平面。每条纺垂线连着一染色体的着丝点。由于着丝点分裂和纺垂丝的收缩，把并到的两根染色单体向两极牵引分开。

后期：经纵列形成的染色体各成一组，分别沿纺垂体的两极移动。

末期：集中于两极的染色体停止移动，并分散成细而卷曲的染色。在其外围又重新形成核膜，核仁也重新出现。纺垂丝消失，中心粒仍在核的一旁形成中心体。细胞膜从中间凹陷分割为两个子细胞，完成了有丝分裂。子细胞恢复了分裂间期的结构与状态。

Creating the Base CLIL Text: A Simple Account

Pare down the full account to produce a simple account comprising the minimum essential information, written in single sentences:

有丝分裂有五个时期。

间期：细胞核里的染色体复制遗传物质。

前期：两条相同的染色单体形成染色单体对。

中期：染色单体对排列在细胞的中央。

后期：染色单体对分开，向两边移动。

末期：细胞分裂成两个新的子细胞。

最后，子细胞又到了间期，然后继续分裂。

Linguistic considerations for constructing the Simple Account:

1. Using the same terminologies as the original text where possible (e.g. 分割)
2. Recycling vocabulary from previous lessons, e.g. 形成 instead of 合成/成为
3. Using similar sentence structures where possible: 先把显微镜放在桌子。然后把玻璃片放在载玻片上。再把灯打开
4. Identifying language that might be useful for students to master at this stage, e.g. 时期, 复制, 单, 对, 排列, 中央, and the sequencing terms 间期, 前期, 中期, 后期, 末期, 最后。These would be the focus of direct language study
5. Creating exercises and reading material to provide practice with the new language in a different context from that in which it will be met for the topic.

Teaching Sequence

1. Review vocabulary to be used in the lesson.
2. Introduce new vocabulary orally by using gestures, objects, and visuals. Pinyin and characters are not presented.

3. Teach the science through scaffolded steps showing the process.
4. Conduct experiment to apply learning.
5. Introduce new characters and consider any additional information they might require, e.g. characters for metals use the radical 钅.
6. Students do exercises and activities to consolidate learning, including reading comprehension, diagram labeling, ordering of steps, etc.

Stages of Cell Reproduction (Mitosis)

Objectives: By the end of the lesson, students will be able to:

- order the stages in the process of mitosis
- name the different stages of mitosis
- describe the stages of mitosis using correct terms.

Teaching Procedure

1. *Introduce new vocabulary orally, conveying meaning by*

- gestures/actions: 分开, 移动
- visuals: 排列, 复制
- visual & gesture: 分裂

Students practice with objects in the room.

2. *Introduce scientific concepts in scaffolded steps:*

1. Using real objects to simulate the different stages of mitosis, students place objects to show the stages.
2. Ask questions to check understanding.
3. Guide whole class to draw different stages of mitosis on the board.
4. Elicit description of each stage of mitosis with gestures.
5. Gradually withdraw facilitation.
6. Students independently describe the stages while acting them out.

Characters and Assessment

Students begin with *Quizlet* exercises in which they match character form and sound. They do cloze and other language exercises and complete a longer text, which they then use as a reading text and summary of the topic. This and their oral explanation of ordering of visuals and doing the experiments constitute their assessment tasks.

★

Outcomes

Most young children participate in CLIL activities with their teacher and classmates with evident interest and enjoyment. However, just repeating phrases and sentences, pointing to and manipulating objects, singing, and playing games can all be undertaken with little concentrated attention, leading to disappointing results over time. While comprehension may be quite high, as with all language learning (Swain 1985), unless sufficient regular attention is paid to requiring independent

Table 6.1 Woodstock Elementary Mandarin Goals

Grade	Content Areas					Science	Mathematics
	Listening	Speaking	Reading (Early Literacy Skills)		Writing	Cultural Themes	
Kindergarten	• Attends to spoken Mandarin • Detects repeated language patterns • Repeats phrases appropriately • Understands familiar words and phrases in context • Understands teacher's instructions	• Regularly attempts to use words and phrases being used in the classroom by teachers and peers • Regularly attempts to communicate in simple words with teachers and peers • Sings songs and understands the meaning of songs • Attempts to use correct pronunciation • Tries to create phrases and sentences	• Begins awareness that Mandarin is a pictorial language • Recognizes 50–70 core characters in simplified form and states meaning • Distinguishes between written forms of Mandarin (i.e. characters and <i>pinyin</i>) • Begins to read basic characters, phrases, and simple sentences in simplified form, and states meaning	• Begins awareness that each character has a certain stroke order • Can write the 50–70 core characters with correct form • Begins writing short phrases and sentences • Begins to pay attention to punctuation mark: period (。)	• Learn children's songs, movies, games, and arts and crafts • Develop awareness of appropriate Mandarin courtesy and greetings at school • Recognizes a few important Chinese holidays	• Learns grade-level academic language about science concepts (e.g., basic foods, land, and water, animals and trees, seasons)	• Learns grade-level academic language about mathematical concepts (e.g. patterns, exploring geometry, counting, number system) • (Students engage in number games to develop the math language that helps them express their mathematical thinking.)

Source: Reproduced with permission

Table 6.2 Woodstock Elementary Mandarin Goals

Grade	Content Areas		Listening	Speaking	Reading (Emergent Literacy Skills)	Writing	Cultural Themes	Science	Mathematics
1st Grade			• Attends to spoken Mandarin for longer periods of time • Understands repeated language patterns • Responds to phrases appropriately • Understands familiar words, phrases, and sentences in context • Understands and acts on teacher's spoken instructions	• Regularly uses words, phrases, and sentences being used in the classroom by teachers and peers • Initiates communication with teachers and peers • Sings new songs and understands the meaning of each song • Attempts to self-correct and approximates teacher's pronunciation, tones, and phrasing • Creates own mini-presentations to peers	• Recognizes an additional 80–100 core characters in simplified form and states meaning • Understands that Mandarin is a pictorial language • Continues to use and further develop vocabulary learned in kindergarten • Distinguishes between written forms of Mandarin (i.e. characters and <i>pinyin</i>) • Reads 80–100 basic characters in simplified form with good Mandarin pronunciation	• Begins to write the additional 80–100 core characters, developing correct form and stroke order • Begins to reproduce short phrases and sentences provided by the teacher • Uses pictures or other prompts regularly and independently to practice Mandarin writing • Begins to pay attention to writing conventions	• Learns cultural concepts through children's songs, movies, games, crafts, and holidays • Demonstrates appropriate Mandarin courtesy and greetings at school • Explains roles of family members • Understands that there is a variety of traditions in Chinese and American cultures, some similar and some different	• Learns grade-level academic language about health and science concepts • Introduced to observation practice and learns about health topics (e.g. food groups and basic nutrition; insects, sand, and pebbles; weather) as outlined by school district curriculum	• Learns grade-level academic language about mathematical concepts (e.g. shapes and patterns, numbers and computation to 20, number value, money, time, measurement) as set by school district curriculum

Source: Reproduced with permission

Table 6.3 Woodstock Elementary Mandarin Goals

Grade	Content Areas				
	Listening	Speaking	Reading (Developing Literacy Skills)	Writing	Cultural Themes
5th Grade	• Responds to a wider variety of phrases appropriately, including appropriate social exchanges • Understands 2- and 3-part instructions appropriate for grade level • Understands familiar words, phrases, sentences, and paragraphs in context for grade level • Attends to short communications for longer periods of time by native and nonnative speakers of Mandarin	• Regularly uses familiar words, phrases, questions, and sentences being used in general communication • Can retell a story, song, event, or poem in own words • Uses longer and more complex phrases correctly • Initiates communication with teachers, peers, and visitors • Recites poems, texts, and songs learned in class • Self-corrects and approximates the teacher's pronunciation, tones, and phrasing with longer utterances	• Uses <i>pinyin</i> as a strategy to decode characters • Uses the Chinese dictionary for comprehension • Recognizes, reads, and understands an additional 100–150 basic characters in simplified form • Reads and comprehends familiar, short passages independently • Expresses both literal and inferential comprehension of familiar short passages • Retells familiar short reading passages • Continues developing reading fluency and accuracy	• Writes an additional 100–150 basic characters, using correct form and stroke order independently • Writes new characters in correct stroke order without modeling or teacher instructions • Writes brief descriptions of classroom, home, personal events, and situations independently • Writes a simple set of directions (including three or more steps) about a familiar topic • Writes brief dictations about familiar topics, pictures, and situations • Writes a simple opinion backed up by two to three reasons	• Teachers will develop cultural units using a variety of perspectives that include contemporary, historical, environmental, and/or artistic information • Uses technology to enhance language and cultural learning • Studies the world of microscopic observation by learning how to use microscopes, magnifying glasses, and hand lenses
					• Studies consumer health information, products, and safety, how social and cultural factors impact a person's health environment, and the role of communication in our lives • Studies the world of microscopic observation by learning how to use microscopes, magnifying glasses, and hand lenses
					• Uses and understands a variety of geometric terms and concepts, including properties of lines (e.g. perpendicular, parallel), properties of polygons (e.g. congruent, symmetrical), and the attributes of 3-D shapes (e.g. face, edge, vertex) • Reads, writes, and compares numbers to 1,000,000

(Continued)

Table 6.3 (Continued)

Grade	Content Areas							
	Listening	Speaking	Reading (Developing Literacy Skills)		Writing	Cultural Themes	Science	Mathematics
		• Gives brief presentations to peers on familiar topics • Understands and begins to use simple <i>cheng yu</i> (idioms) • Speaking approximates correct pronunciation and tone patterns • Initiates impromptu descriptions of activities and personal events	• Uses radicals to help understand the meaning of new words • Uses technology to learn vocabulary and phrases in Mandarin • Reads simple correspondence such as notes, notices, and short letters	• Writes simple one- to three-paragraph persuasive papers on familiar topics • Initiates written correspondence, such as simple notes, notices, and friendly letters • Prepares written materials for reports, notes for presentations, posters, and other projects • Uses a phrase book (Chinese dictionary) regularly to support and produce writing • Uses technology for basic written forms, such as notes, letters, and emails using Chinese characters		• Conducts controlled experiments involving pendulums and mini catapults, learning about variables and making predictions	• Demonstrates meanings of fractions in different forms (e.g. mixed numbers, improper fractions, decimals)	

Source: Reproduced with permission

Table 6.4 Mandarin Immersion Curriculum Framework Fifth Grade

A	B	C	D	E	F
Theme	Context	Communicative Tasks & Objectives	Language Functions	Language Forms	Examples of Receptive Vocabulary
1 School/Life Experiences/Community	Friendship Hobbies/Habits House layout Neighborhood	1. Can discuss personal hobbies, habits, and some personal experiences to satisfy the requirements of school and every day situations 2. Can discuss some general interests and common values with increasing fluency 3. Can describe general house layout and provide brief information about one's neighborhood	1. Introduction 2. Telephone conversation 3. Encouragement 4. Greetings/Courtesy/ Congratulation 5. Invitation 6. Interests 7. Complaint 8. Appointment	1. 这位是.... 2. 请问, 您找谁/您要找哪一位? 3. 您一定会... 4. 很高兴认识你; 非常感谢; 祝贺你! 5. 你有空吗? 我想请你.... 6. 你的爱好是什么? 我爱好.... 7. 不公平! 8. 可不可以/能不能....? 行/不行/没问题	电子邮件, 电子邮箱地址, 短信, 光盘(碟), 演员, 看电影, 上电影院, 听音乐, 抽烟, 喝酒, 愉快, 容易, 吹牛, 说大话, 傻瓜, 看不起, 帮助, 握手, 请教, 瘦, 遇到困难, 寄一封信, 寄东西, 银行, 商店, 超市, 邮电局, 客厅, 厨房, 阳台, 卫生间, 卧室, 书房, 楼上, 楼下, 楼梯, 车库
3 Taking a Trip	Come to school Field trip Travel	1. Can describe the route from home to school and estimated time 2. Can give and comprehend basic directions to and from specific destinations 3. Can briefly describe the geographical area of a field trip and create a simple map 4. Can tell some major geographic differences of a place and calculate, using distance and speed, how long the trip will take	1. Time sequence 2. Time duration 3. Direction 4. Clarification 5. Ability	1. 先....再....; 总是/老是; 从来没有....; 有时.... 2....秒; 从....时间到....时间; 几分钟? 几个小时? 从几点到几点? 3. 往前(后, 左, 右....)就到了; 在....里面(旁边, 上面....); 请问去....地方怎么走? 4. 请再说/讲一遍; 请重复一下 5. 行不行? (不) 行/没问题	坐车, 往, 一直走, 拐弯, 左拐, 右拐, 走路, 过马路, 对面, 红绿灯, 地图, 郊游, 地形, 平地, 山林, 农场, 城市, 郊区, 东部, 南部, 西部, 北部, 坐飞机, 飞行, 州, 英里, 距离, 速度, 旅行, 计算

(Continued)

Table 6.4 (Continued)

A	B	C	D	E	F	
1	Theme	Context	Communicative Tasks & Objectives	Language Functions	Language Forms	Examples of Receptive Vocabulary
4	Math/Time	Math general terms	1. Can understand general grade-level math vocabularies 2. Can recognize main geographical feature structures and geographic locations of the country and the world as a whole	1. Time	1. 今天是几号? 今年/去年/明年	大约, 大概, 比较, 顺序, 表示, 低估, 高估, 先后次序, 检验, 交换, 结合, 分配, 技巧, 商数, 除数, 余数, 数字, 千, 万, 百万, 亿, 第一, 第二..., 质数, 重新组合, 百分比, 合成数, 最小(大)公倍数, 小数, 相等部分, 分子, 分母, 简化, 通分, 可能性, 合并, 不可能, 范围, 方式, 图, 图表, 扩展, 联系, 代数, 变数, 几何, 直线, 线段, 直角, 射线, 平行, 交叉, 垂直
		Calculations & Estimations		2. Emphasis	2. 就是...	
5	Tradition/Culture/Legends	Statistics & Probability	1. Can generally describe what people do during Qingming (Tomb Sweeping) Day and Lantern Festival 2. Can understand some traditions and special activities taking place during Spring and Lantern Festivals (hanging couplets, playing lantern riddles. . .) 3. Can comprehend some idiom stories and historical figures	3. Suggestion	3. 我觉得应该...	
		Algebraic Relationships		4. Encouragements	4. 你会/可以/能...	
6	Natural World	Geometry	1. Can name some endangered animals 2. Can conduct research on some endangered animals and report on them	5. Math terms		
		Measurement				
7	Natural World	Geographical feature structures and geographic locations	1. Can generally describe what people do during Qingming (Tomb Sweeping) Day and Lantern Festival 2. Can understand some traditions and special activities taking place during Spring and Lantern Festivals (hanging couplets, playing lantern riddles. . .) 3. Can comprehend some idiom stories and historical figures			
8	Natural World	Qingming Festival	1. Can generally describe what people do during Qingming (Tomb Sweeping) Day and Lantern Festival 2. Can understand some traditions and special activities taking place during Spring and Lantern Festivals (hanging couplets, playing lantern riddles. . .) 3. Can comprehend some idiom stories and historical figures	1. Example	1....像....	
		Spring Festival		2. Cause and effect	2. 怎么会...?	
9	Natural World	Lantern Festival	1. Can generally describe what people do during Qingming (Tomb Sweeping) Day and Lantern Festival 2. Can understand some traditions and special activities taking place during Spring and Lantern Festivals (hanging couplets, playing lantern riddles. . .) 3. Can comprehend some idiom stories and historical figures	3. Doubt	3. 我(不)相信	
		Idioms				
10	Natural World	Endangered animals	1. Can name some endangered animals 2. Can conduct research on some endangered animals and report on them	1. Comparison	1. A比B (更) ...;	天气, 气候, 温度, 气温, 温度计, 降水量, 湿度, 气压, 气象台(站), 天气预报, 热带, 寒带, 温暖, 炎热, 影响, 四季
		Weather		2. Degree	2....极了	
11	Natural World		1. Can name some endangered animals 2. Can conduct research on some endangered animals and report on them	3. Describing	3. 又... 又...	

3. Can identify the main elements that make up the weather and understand how these elements operate on their own and together to produce a range of weather conditions

4. Can briefly describe the relationship between weather and people (housing, clothing, sports, etc)

7 Human Body/
Health Body system
Healthy life
Everyday illness &
injuries

1. Can generally describe important body organs and how they function
2. Can generally describe how one takes care of body, eats healthy and stays fit
3. Can identify common illnesses and injuries and explain how to prevent them

1. Cause and effect
2. Feelings
3. Guessing
4. Permission

心脏, 细胞, 皮肤, 肺, 肝脏, 肾脏, 肌肉, 骨头, 大脑, 神经, 胃, 喉咙, 细菌, 咳嗽, 感冒, 发烧, 肚子痛, 癌症, 哮喘, 虫叮, 虫咬, 起泡, 破皮, 划破, 撞青, 急诊, 动手术, 照X光, 抗菌素, 救护车, 保护自己, 营养, 锻炼, 习惯

8 Academic Inquiry Narrative/Expository reading

1. Knowledge: can recall main information
2. Comprehension: can understand what was read
3. Application: can convert abstract the content to concrete situations
4. Analysis: compare and contrast the content to personal experiences

1. Cause and effect
2. Quoting
3. Sequence

知识, 复述, 内容, 理解, 应用, 分析, 综合, 评估, 判断, 检查, 考试, 解释, 叙述, 发现, 修改, 计算, 完成, 举例, 比较, 对比, 讨论, 复习, 翻译, 报告, 分类, 准备

output, the expressive capacity of primary CLIL learners may be limited even after some years of Chinese learning. At the secondary level students can feel the workload for curriculum learned in Chinese is excessive compared to that of their school friends who are learning the same material in English, and this is especially so if they are not given opportunities to enjoy some of the benefits of their growing language proficiency. Visits to China can be very motivating, but these are usually at most once a year. More frequent, low key contact with visitors to their classroom and exchanges via Skype with others like themselves in their own country or elsewhere, and with Chinese sister school friends, in which they explain in Chinese what they have been learning and how they go about it, are all effective forms of displaying and feeling rewarded for their efforts.

Little is documented about the effect that greater and more frequent exposure to their target language might have on student learning processes and outcomes in CLIL Chinese. It has been noted by the author, however, that after as little as a year of immersion learning, many students spontaneously chunk their utterances in a native like way, with hesitations and pauses coming naturally at the end of a noun or verb phrase; and that when copying from the board these students habitually scan several characters at once, and only look up once or twice more as they write them down. Curriculum goals designed by Yin Shen for one long-running immersion program in Oregon, USA are presented on pages 107–113 showing expectations after one, two, and five years of instruction. Student work samples from programs in Victoria, Australia presented below also provide an indication of what is being achieved in CLIL programs. However, just how skills develop across the years and from student to student urgently needs close documenting over time, and is only one research avenue among many in the CLIL Chinese area waiting to be taken.

Work Samples

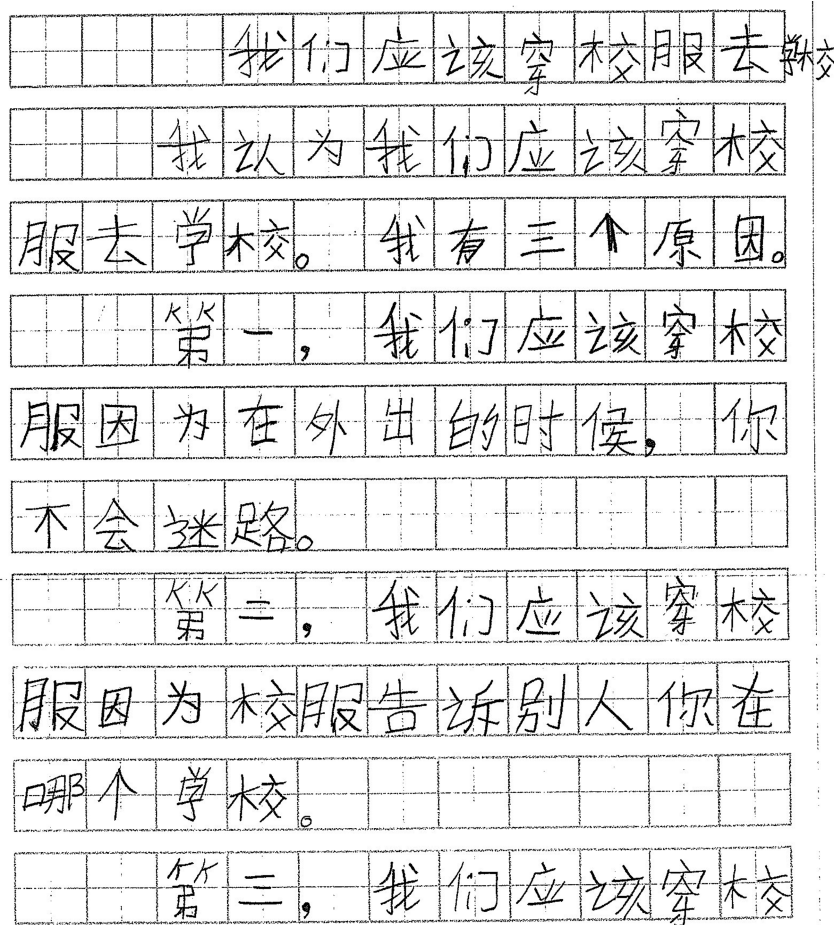
在明朝1405年到1433年有一个探险者叫郑和。
郑和率船队七次出海。每次郑和出海都带六十多
艘船和近三万人。有人说他的船队还来过澳大利亚。

因为郑和去过的地方多为贫穷落后的地区，于
是中国觉得他们是最强大的国家。虽然郑和想
找到文明的国家，但是没有达到目的，所以中国变得
骄傲自大，他们思想封闭并闭关锁国。郑和的另外一个目的
可能是寻找建文帝。

虽然郑和出海开通贸易往来，增进了不同国家的文化
交流，互相了解和友谊。但是郑和出海花费巨大，浪费资源。郑和
最远到过红海南岸，如果他继续向北他会来到文艺复兴
时的欧洲，那会改变世界。

如果郑和到了欧洲会开通中国和欧洲的贸易往来，
那么中国会与欧洲继续交往。最终郑和可能访问不同的

Figure 6.1 Social Studies assignment, Year 7 mother tongue English student at Richmond High School, Victoria, Australia



中文天下版权所有 All Rights Reserved www.yes-chinese.com

Figure 6.2 Persuasive writing on a social theme, Grade 2 mother tongue English student at Richmond West Primary School, Victoria, Australia

References

- American Council on the Teaching of Foreign Languages (ACTFL) (2012) *ACTFL Proficiency Guidelines*. Alexandria, VA: ACTFL.
- Asia Society. (2017) *CELIN Briefs on Chinese Language Learning and Teaching*. Retrieved from <http://asiasociety.org/china-learning-initiatives/celin-briefs-chinese-language-learning-and-teaching>.
- Coyle, D. (2007) 'Content and language integrated learning: Towards a connected research agenda for CLIL pedagogies'. *International Journal of Bilingual Education & Bilingualism* 10(5): 543–562.
- Coyle, D. (2014) "What is the 4 C's framework?" *YouTube*, December 3, 2014, Uploaded by Centro del Profesorado de Granada. Retrieved from www.youtube.com/watch?v=UWzkYDiKQE4.
- Cross, R. (2014) 'Defining content and language integrated learning for languages education in Australia'. *Babel* 49(2): 4–15.
- Cross, R. with Gearon, M. (2013) *Research and Evaluation of the Content and Language Integrated Learning (CLIL) Approach to Teaching and Learning Languages in Victorian Schools*. Melbourne, VIC: Victorian

- Department of Education and Early Childhood Education. Retrieved from www.education.vic.gov.au/school/principals/curriculum/Pages/clilvictoria.aspx.
- Dale, L. and Tanner, R. (2012) *CLIL Activities A Resource for Subject and Language Teachers*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Everson, M. E. (2009) 'Literacy in Chinese as a foreign language'. In M. E. Everson and Y. Xiao (eds.), *Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language: Theories and Applications*, 97–112. Boston, MA: Cheng and Tsui Company.
- Fielding, R. and Harbon, L. (2014) 'Implementing a content and language integrated learning program in New South Wales primary schools: Teachers' perceptions of the challenges and opportunities'. *Babel* 49(2): 16–27.
- Fielding, R. and Harbon, L. (2017) 'The keys to unlocking the potential of NSW CLIL programs and avoiding the seven-year itch!' Paper presented at the 21st AFMLTA International Languages Conference, Robina, QLD: Bond University, Queensland, Australia, July 7–8, 2017.
- Fortune, T. W. (2012) 'What the research says about immersion'. In Asia Society (ed.), *Chinese Language Learning in the Early Grades: A Handbook of Resources and Best Practices for Mandarin Immersion*, 9–13. Retrieved from <http://asiasociety.org/education/chinese-language-initiatives/chinese-language-learning-early-grades>.
- Goldin Meadow, S. (2005) *Hearing Gesture How Our Hands Help us Think*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- Grabe, W. (2009) 'Epilogue: Reflections on second language reading research and instruction'. In Z. H. Hong and N. J. Anderson (eds.), *Second Language Reading Research and Instruction: Crossing the Boundaries*, 192–205. Ann Arbor, MI: The University of Michigan Press.
- Harrop, E. (2012) 'Content and Language Integrated Learning (CLIL): Limitations and possibilities'. *Encuentro* 21: 57–70.
- Koda, K. (2005) *Insights into Second Language Reading: A Cross-Linguistic Approach*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Marsh, D. M. (ed.). (2002) *CLIL/EMILE: The European Dimension—Actions, Trends, and Foresight Potential*. European Union: Public Services Contract.
- Orton, J. and Cui, X. (2013) *Using an iPad and Applications*. Melbourne: Chinese Teacher Training Centre, MGSE, The University of Melbourne.
- Orton, J., Zhang, Y. and Cui, X. (2017) 'Foundations for content learning in Chinese: Beyond the European Base'. In Istvan Keskcs and Chaofen Sun (eds.), *Advances in Chinese as a Second Language Research*, 287–298. London: Routledge.
- Padilla, A., Fan, L. Xu, X. and Silva, D. (2013) 'A Mandarin/English two-way immersion program: Language proficiency and academic achievement'. *Foreign Language Annals* 46(4): 661–679.
- Patterson, M. (2007) 'Reflections on administering an Elementary School Mandarin Immersion Program'. CARLA: *The ACIE Newsletter* 10(3). Retrieved from Carla.umn.edu/immersion/acie/vol11/no3/may08_immersion101.html.
- Prescott, C. and Zhang, Y. (2017) 'Developing content learning in Chinese: The Victorian experience' *Babel* 51(3): 14–23.
- Steele, J. Slater, R. Zamorro, G. Miller, T. Li, J. Burkhauser, S. and Bacon, R. (2015) 'Effects of dual-language immersion programs on student achievement: Evidence from lottery data'. *American Educational Research Journal* 54 1_suppl (4): 282S–306S.
- Swain, M. (1985) 'Communicative competence: Some roles of comprehensible input and comprehensible output in its development'. In S. Gass and C. Madden (eds.), *Input in Second Language Acquisition*, 235–253. Rowley: Newbury House.
- Sykes, J., Forrest, L. and Carpenter, K. (Undated). *Building a Successful and Sustainable Language Immersion Program: The Portland, Oregon Mandarin Dual Language Experience*. Portland, OR: Center for Applied Second Language Studies, University of Oregon.
- Tellier, M. (2008) 'The effects of gesture on second language memorisation by young children'. *Gesture* 8(2): 218–235.

- Weise, E. (2014) *A Parent's Guide to Mandarin Immersion*. Mandarin Immersion Parents Council. Retrieved from <http://miparentscouncil.org/>
- Widdowson, H. (1978) *Teaching Language as Communication*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Zarobe, Y. and Catalán, R. (2009) 'Introduction'. In Y. Zarobe and R. Catalán (eds.), *Content and Language Integrated Learning Research*, xi–xvi. Bristol, Buffalo and Toronto: Multilingual Matters.
- 岑超基 (Shum, M. S. K.) (2010) 语言功能与中文教学 (*The Functions of Language and the Learning of Chinese*). 香港: 香港大学出版社 (Hong Kong: Hong Kong University Press).

Creating a Task-Based Language Course in Mandarin Chinese

Miao-fen Tseng

Introduction to TBLT

Task-based language teaching (TBLT) is a meaning-based approach to language teaching and learning. For almost three decades, it has prompted fruitful discussions in second-language pedagogy and is regarded as the most recently developed communicative methodology to place a synergized focus on student-centeredness and authentic communication. Originating in Prabhu's pioneering work on the Communicative Language Teaching Project in Bangalore, India, in 1987, TBLT has evolved from theory to practice and continues to inspire researchers and practitioners to test theoretical frameworks and exert progressive influence on pedagogical paradigm transformation and curricular innovation.

The theoretical underpinnings of TBLT are in cognitive and sociocultural theories that connect the design and implementation of tasks with cognitive processes and sociocultural interactions. Methodologically, TBLT arose as an alternative to the structure-based present-practice-produce (PPP) approach. In the PPP instructional procedure, teachers adhere to a sequence in which they present a preselected language pattern or rule, practice with students, and expect students to produce evidence of having learned that rule in an output-controlled setting. Among the extensive critiques of PPP, one of the most major has to do with the misconception in PPP that a precise focus on a predetermined structure in the linear procedure leads to automatization of language learning (Skehan 1996a, 1996b). Opponents of structure-based approaches have frequently argued that what is taught is actually not equivalent to what the learners learn.

In response to the ineffectiveness of the PPP approach, TBLT advocates have called for a pedagogical and curricular shift to focus on meaning centrally and on form peripherally. Long (1991) formulated a theoretical dichotomy of 'focus-on-forms' versus 'focus-on-form' to distinguish structure-focused from meaning-focused instruction, and advocated the latter. In TBLT, language is viewed primarily as a means to achieve communicative functions, intents, and goals, through a process of negotiation and meaning making. Enforced manipulation of language as an object to be studied, analyzed, and practiced does not readily equip learners to communicate in real-world contexts (Ellis and Shintani 2014). Tasks and task performance therefore become the central foci of language learning in TBLT (Skehan 1996a; Nunan 2004; Willis and Willis 2007). The development of TBLT yields research on effects of task variables

on motivation, interlanguage development, and language performance (Robinson 2011); task complexity (Revesz, Sachs and Hama 2012); and grammar teaching through focus-on-form instruction (Hossein and Fotos 2011; Fotos and Nassaji 2007).

Task Characteristics

The TBLT literature includes a wide array of definitions for tasks, and there is no single agreed-upon definition. In one early formulation, Canale (1983) discussed a task as contributing to the development of four aspects of language competence: linguistic, sociolinguistic, discourse, and strategic. Choosing to emphasize the features of tasks rather than their goals, Wright (1987) identified their two principle elements as ‘input data’ and ‘instructional questions’. Nunan (1989) suggested that tasks are made up of input, activities, and goals.

A generalization of task characteristics, as used and considered by many current TBLT practitioners and researchers, draws on complementary definitions formulated by Skehan (1998) and Ellis (2009). In their view, a task is a communicative problem whose primary focus is on meaning. Learners perform tasks in authentic, ‘real-life’ situations, which means in part that they choose their own language resources, rather than applying predetermined or controlled language tools assigned by instructors. Assessment of task completion is based on learners’ language outcomes. Tasks are thus learner-driven, they generate authentic language experiences, and they have communicative goals whose success in driving language acquisition can be measured and then built on further in real-life situations. In two studies investigating Chinese language teachers’ understanding of tasks (Tseng 2017), results showed that postsecondary and secondary teachers in the United States hold appropriate understanding of tasks, as do teachers at the college level in Taiwan and the United States.

Nunan (2001) compared tasks to more traditional exercises, and found that a task is a communicative act that does not emphasize structures, as opposed to an exercise that is aimed at mastery of a certain linguistic form. The following task, named ‘spot the difference’ (Ellis 2018: 217), illustrates the features of a task as distinct from an exercise:

Students are placed in pairs. Each student is given a picture and told that the two pictures in each pair are basically the same but there are five small differences. Without looking at each other’s picture, they talk together to locate and write down the five differences.

The above task features an information gap that aims to enhance negotiation of meaning between two interlocutors. The focus is on meaning rather than pre-assigned words or structures. In order to accomplish the communicative objective, the two interlocutors have to use their own language resources creatively based on the picture each sees, in order to be understood by each other. The expected communicative outcome is to generate a list of differences in the two pictures. By contrast, an exercise has a sole objective to accomplish—to accurately use measure words for different clothing items—but nothing goes beyond that. While the objective of a task is to communicate, the goal of an exercise is to rehearse a formal aspect of language.

Task-Based and Task-Supported Language Teaching

TBLT is multifaceted, not monolithic (Leaver and Willis 2004). Most generally, TBLT can be considered as having ‘strong’ and ‘weak’ versions, described by Thomas (2015) as ‘adoption’ and ‘adaptation’ respectively. These two versions are considered the ‘two arms of the task-based teaching enterprise’ (Van den Branden, Bygate and Norris 2009: 9).

The ‘strong’ version of TBLT is the original version, in which tasks are the core organizational units of syllabi and instruction. Advocates of the strong version of TBLT hold that successful language teaching requires adherence to the overarching principle that tasks are central to curriculum design, classroom practice, and program development and assessment (Long 1988; Willis 1993; Long and Crookes 1992). When tasks are the primary focus in the language classroom, linguistic structure and sometimes even meaning negotiation are incidental.

The ‘weak’ version of TBLT, sometimes called *task-supported* language teaching (Skehan 1998; Ellis 2003; Littlewood 2007; Samuda and Bygate 2008), or TSLT, is a more flexible approach with a high-level of application and practicality. In TSLT, tasks supplement whatever type of syllabus or curriculum instructors use, based on their particular teaching contexts and programmatic decisions. Rather than functioning as the central vehicles, tasks in TSLT play a supporting role within the curriculum, alongside language-teaching methods already in use. Thus, teachers can use tasks flexibly along with any traditional approach, rather than as an alternative to these approaches. For example, PPP-based instructors can include tasks as manipulative units in the production stage of teaching (Ellis 2003).

The most recent recommendation, advocated by Ellis (2018), is a modular language curriculum that incorporates both process-based TBLT and product-based TSLT. Operating on the assumption that TBLT and TSLT are mutually compatible, in this curriculum learners first develop fluency and communicative skills through TBLT, grounded in the usage-learning theory, and then consolidate their learning and ensure the accuracy of their language use through skills-based TSLT. In the TBLT learning process, language learning is mostly natural and incidental, without predetermined language components. The emphasis in TSLT is on learning products, whereby learners explicitly master language forms based on the implicit knowledge they have learned through TBLT. In other words, in the first TBLT stage, communication and meaning negotiation are at the heart of learning, and in the second TSLT stage, expressive intent is attested and refined by lexical and structural correction or reinforcement.

The frameworks proposed by Willis (1996b) and Skehan (1998) are perhaps the most frequently cited and discussed. Willis’s framework is also called the lexical, or counseling-learning, approach, and Skehan’s is characterized as an information-processing approach for ‘the systematic development of underlying interlanguage and effective communicative performance’ (p. 129). The design of a task-based lesson involves a three-stage cycle that reflects its chronological order in the classroom. Despite differences in theoretical claims between the two, they share the same three phases of pre-task, main task, and post-task. The first and third stages are optional, whereas the second phase—main task or performance—constitutes the minimal component of a task-based cycle and is therefore essential and obligatory (Ellis 2003). To ensure successful completion of task performance and language development, the comprehensive cycle including all three stages is recommended.

Types of Tasks

Since tasks play a central role in TBLT, the classification of tasks is inevitably important for lesson planning and curriculum design. Richard (2001) uses authenticity as a criterion for distinguishing pedagogical from real-world tasks. Pedagogical tasks are created to trigger learning processes and strategies. In real-world tasks, as suggested by their name, learners practice and rehearse in activities that resemble authentic communicative settings.

Structure is used as a criterion to classify tasks as focused or unfocused (Ellis 2004), or as structure-oriented or communicative-oriented (Skehan 1998). Focused tasks target the use of a particular or predetermined linguistic feature to stimulate communicative language use in

meaning-oriented communication. Unfocused tasks do not direct learners toward any specific linguistic features; therefore, language features can never be included in the rubric as an evaluation criterion of unfocused tasks. Structure-oriented tasks are analogous to focused tasks, and communicative-oriented tasks are analogous to unfocused tasks. Willis and Willis (2007), who devise a wide variety of tasks based on different pedagogical purposes, classify seven types of tasks: listing, ordering, and sorting, matching, comparing, problem-solving, sharing personal experiences, and projects and creative tasks. These types of tasks inherently elicit different degrees of critical or higher-order thinking skills or cognitive capacity and are frequently included in textbooks. Taking the type of interaction in the product as the central starting point, Pica, Kanagy and Falodun (1993) list task types, including for example jigsaw, information gap, problem-solving, decision-making, and opinion exchange. Whether language output requires one-way or two-way interaction is key for their classification. To put simply, tasks with one-way interaction can be completed individually, and tasks with two-way interaction require collaboration between two or more learners.

Tseng (2014) organized tasks and rubrics according to themes that are frequently taught mostly at the novice level and partially at the intermediate level. Her classification includes approximately 80 topic-specific tasks, with 50 accompanying task-specific rubrics, checklists, or scoring guidelines. The tasks are diversified and wide-ranging in types that carry different pedagogic purposes. Each task begins with ‘can-do’ statements that come along with clear instructions, instructional materials and strategies, and suggested linguistic components such as vocabulary, keywords and phrases, and grammatical structures for instructors’ easy reference. The step-by-step instructions explain procedures for instructor and students before and during class, and can be easily adopted and adapted for TBLT or TSLT.

TBLT still lacks a widely accepted single typology of tasks, meaning that researchers have not reached consensus on the organizing principles for constructing such a typology (Ellis 2003). Long (2017) comments that task types are currently classified and implemented somewhat impressionistically and abstractly and recommends instead that classifications be based on ‘tangible, low-inference characteristics’ (p. 90). In light of the above analysis of the types of tasks, instructors, in a general sense, may consider four key elements that distinguish task types: authenticity, structure, interaction, and cognitive load (degree of critical and higher-order thinking). As Long (2017) explained, increasing learners’ motivation is at the heart of developing pedagogic and target tasks. It is essential that instructors keep in mind that learner motivation is a fundamental element in designing and carrying out any type of task in the classroom.

Sequencing Tasks

How to sequence tasks delves into the complexity levels of the tasks themselves and of implementation procedures. Many studies have been conducted on the issue of complexity, but results are mixed and further research is needed. Selecting and sequencing tasks is key to the effective implementation of a TBLT or TSLT curriculum. It requires decision-making on the content and language forms at each stage of planning, to ensure that the difficulty and complexity levels are appropriate for learners and to prepare them linguistically and semantically for the next step. Making favorable progress that accomplishes learning outcomes is the result of careful planning: the instructor must set up an appropriate level of challenge for learners, while avoiding psychological barriers or imposing an overbearing cognitive load.

Both language and cognitive factors need to be considered (Skehan 1996a). Lexical and syntactic complexity and their distinctive range are core factors. Inseparable from these are cognitive factors that include learners’ familiarity with the material in the task, the nature of the learning

material, reasoning operations, and degree of structuring. Ellis (2003) attempts to generalize criteria for task sequencing, proposing task input (medium and organization), task conditions, the process of performing a task, and task outcomes. Task difficulty can be adjusted by changing methodological procedures or providing planning time to facilitate or ease any burden that might be placed on learners. It is important to look at the integration of tasks with other tasks, pedagogic or target, to ensure that learners develop enabling skills for 'learning how to learn' in order to communicate successfully (Nunan 1989: 118). Another aspect is task continuity, in which tasks are set up in an interrelated and interconnected chain, such that successful completion of a task depends on how well prerequisite or prior activities are completed. Finally, individual differences can never be ignored or underemphasized. Regardless of whatever is proposed above in terms of task sequencing and so on, the instructor must remember to analyze tasks holistically at the linguistic and cognitive levels and reflect on learners, materials, task type and design, procedure, and any other relevant variables that may come into play in the task completion process.

Drawing on Robinson's Cognition Hypothesis (see for example, Baralt, Gilabert, and Robinson 2014), tasks can be sequenced by cognitive complexity; complexity can be defined through tasks' resource-directing factors, pertaining to how forms are dealt with, and resource-dispersing variables, such as pre-task planning. Three of the most salient aspects of language are the complexity, accuracy, and fluency (CAF) with which it is used or performed; these three aspects are especially important in the world of TBLT (Skehan 1998; Ellis 2003, 2008; Ellis and Barkhuizen 2005). They are used as performance descriptors and indicators of L2 learners' proficiency. Yuan (2010) analyzed data collected from 42 students enrolled in business Chinese in terms of CAF. Results showed that text type has an impact on the quality and quantity of writing. Additionally, descriptive writing indicates a higher level of accuracy than does argumentative writing, but argumentative writing reveals a higher level of complexity than does descriptive. Liu (2017a) investigated how text types influence cognitive complexity, task difficulty, and learner's L2 performance. Data analysis shows that learners performed better in terms of CAF in monologues in instructive texts than in evaluative texts. Liu (2017b) conducted another study to look into the effect of task types on lexical complexity in L2 spoken Chinese. Statistical analysis showed that 'text types and communicative modes significantly affect both lexical variation and lexical sophistication' (p. 269). Learners' vocabulary use was the least sophisticated but most varied in the argumentative task, but it was the opposite in the descriptive task. Learners' use of vocabulary was more varied in monologues and most varied in the orientational task.

Designing TBLT and TSLT Courses

The syllabus is the blueprint of a course, describing what topics and subjects are taught in a predetermined time frame. White (1988) distinguishes a Type A syllabus from a Type B syllabus. A Type A syllabus is within a TSLT framework, and is notional, functional, and synthetic in nature. A Type B syllabus is within a TBLT framework, and is analytic and process-oriented (Long 1997). Brumfit (1984) holds that these two types are distinct but that both are needed in language programs. Extending from his study in 1997, Long (2015) lists different types of language teaching syllabi, of which the most relevant for this chapter are synthetic syllabi, which focus on product, and analytic syllabi, which focus on process. None of the studies claims or implicates the adoption of a modular curriculum proposed by Ellis (2018).

The following discussions center upon task and course design in online and face-to-face courses for teaching Chinese as a foreign language. Studies that emphasize the investigation of tasks as instructional activities but lack the analysis of course development as a whole are not included in the summary.

Tasks in Online Courses

In a task-based classroom, learners are evaluated on how well they can complete tasks rather than on how well they can analyze the learned language or how much knowledge they possess about the language. In this regard, TBLT is well-suited for further adoption in online language learning, in part due to the potential for many target tasks to be accomplished on the internet or through simulations, and in part because in this format, students have the flexibility to determine their own learning pace (Doughty and Long 2003; Nielson and Gonzalez-Lloret 2010; Lai, Zhao and Wang 2011).

Two online Chinese language courses serve as good examples to help shed light on how tasks could be sequenced and organized. The design of the online course documented in Nielson's study (2014) followed a seven-step procedure, starting from a needs analysis (Long 2005) and ending with program evaluation. It exemplifies how an online language course can be carefully structured to strictly comply with the procedural development according to the TBLT framework. The design, implementation, and evaluation of an online course of targeted intermediate proficiency also point to the resilience and versatility of TBLT. In comparison with the TBLT curriculum design in Nielson's study, Lai, Zhao and Yong (2011) adopted Ellis's general guidelines (2003) to create tasks added to enrich a textbook-based online course. In creating an ab initio online course for novice learners, they sequenced tasks from written to oral, from fewer elements and relationships to more, and from dialogic to monologic in a TBLT framework. They also investigated teachers' reactions to course design, and pointed out the challenges that arose in that particular online context.

The task-based course investigated in Nielson's study follows the seven steps proposed by Doughty and Long (2003):

1. Analyze task-based needs to identify target tasks.
2. Classify into target task types.
3. Derive pedagogic tasks.
4. Sequence to form a task-based syllabus.
5. Implement with appropriate methodology and pedagogy.
6. Assess with task-based, criterion-referenced, performance tests.
7. Evaluate program.

Starting with Step 1, 100 high school students enrolled in elementary and intermediate Chinese courses in the United States were invited to identify and select tasks in which they were interested. This led to work toward Step 2, when the teaching team analyzed responses and identified five target tasks, including following street directions, ordering food, providing street directions, negotiating for goods and services, and arranging for travel. In Step 3, the teaching team began to develop materials and video-recorded native speakers' unscripted interactions on the five target tasks. These tasks featured spontaneous interactions and served as the central vehicles for the generation of five corresponding modules of instruction, each of which contained a variety of pedagogic tasks, with total completion time from 10 to 25 hours. The online course was composed of a total of 100 individual pedagogic tasks, organized by level of complexity, moving from input-focused to output-focused activities. This constituted work on sequencing tasks in Step 4.

Since the course under study was completely online, Step 5 did not involve teaching in a physical class. However, the course was uniquely designed so that each learner had a weekly 30-minute virtual meeting with an instructor through videoconferencing. This one-on-one

synchronous speaking session is considered the cornerstone of learning and yields satisfactory pedagogical outcomes praised by learners.

To fulfill Step 6, evaluating language performance, the teaching team adopted different sets of criterion-reference rubrics for performance-based pedagogic and target tasks. The rubrics, originally created by Burwell, González-Lloret, and Nielson (2009) for Spanish-language teaching, relieved the intensity of workload required in this step for the Chinese teaching team in the study. In this step, each theme culminated in a 30-minute session in which learners role-played with an interlocutor the simulated target task, for example taking the role of a customer interacting with a shopkeeper or street vendor, and engaged in conversations with the interlocutor to receive interactional corrective feedback. The conversation sessions were the final tasks of each module composed of Performance-Based Assessments (PBAs). To evaluate the online program, Nielson's study demonstrated the last step of course design by analyzing learners' performances on different types of tasks and assessing the assessment tools in an attempt to provide evidence-based recommendations for future online task-based courses.

Steps 3–4 are key to course construction as they concern how tasks are created and developed progressively, and so they are worth elaborating. In Nielson's study, pedagogic tasks were arranged from input-focused to output-focused, from individual to pair work, and from self-paced asynchronous to timed synchronous learning. For example, pedagogic tasks in listening started with listening for the main idea, then listening for keywords, then listening for specific details, and finally listening for nuances and subtle differences in meaning. Output-focused tasks were sequenced from guided output tasks to online live communication. An example of this kind of sequence begins with an oral recording in response to a voicemail or other prompt and concludes with online live interaction with a pedagogically trained interlocutor who is a native speaker. Sequencing different types of tasks is important in all curricula, including for face-to-face, blended, and online teaching. An appropriate sequence of pedagogic tasks leading to target tasks is especially crucial for online curricula. Instruction delivered in a traditional or blended classroom allows time and 'here-and-now' flexibility that allows instructors to improvise and modify based on daily observation and live interaction with learners on the spot, but such immediacy and timely remediation are less feasible in online courses. Online learning materials are pre-organized and uploaded in online courseware for the easy planning and organization of self-paced asynchronous learning that accounts for the majority of learning. Because of this, appropriate predetermination of sequenced task complexity is particularly key for target and pedagogic tasks.

In contrast with the course in Nielson's study, the *ab initio* online course that Lai, Zhao and Yong (2011) created followed the 'model-practice-application-game' sequence with a combination of asynchronous and synchronous components. The asynchronous sessions required students to self-study the e-textbook, *Chengo Chinese*, and complete assignments. In addition to the asynchronous learning that was the major part of learning, students also participated in one-hour weekly synchronous sessions in small groups of three to five students. The synchronous sessions aimed to expand the content of each unit in the e-textbook. The study divided novice learners into control and experimental groups, with the only difference being TBLT or non-TBLT for the synchronous sessions. Students in the control group were taught using the 'initiation-response-evaluation' (IRE) instructional flow, whereas students in the experimental group followed the three-step cycle in a typical TBLT syllabus. A total of 12 one-hour sessions were implemented for both control and experimental groups.

Time allotment for each of the three stages in the implementation cycle differed. The pre-task stage was the longest, with a shorter task stage, and with planning and reporting omitted. The pre-task was mainly input-based or comprised of activities aimed at familiarizing learners

with the performance of the target task. The authors reflected that the organization of the task cycle could have been improved to approximate fruitful learning. In the study, the full cycle of pre-, during-, and post-task activities was not well implemented due to the limited duration and frequency of the synchronous sessions. This problem was later resolved in a follow-up course by moving input-based pre-task assignments to be completed independently or collaboratively prior to the synchronous sessions, so that the synchronous sessions could start with integrative pre-tasks or review tasks, leading into smooth transitions to the remaining two phases of the cycle.

Nielson's study documents a process-oriented online course that strictly follows Long's proposed seven steps for the development of a typical TBLT course. In comparison with Nielson's course, the course under study by Lai et al. abided by the three-step cycle for an added TBLT synchronous session on a weekly basis. This, however, occurred in the experimental group only, not the control group, and it was not applied for the entire course. Despite adopting the concept of the three-stage cycle for a small portion of the course experiment, Lai et al. selected for their study textbook-centered materials, with the predetermined vocabulary and grammatical structures that characterize a typical analytical syllabus for TSLT.

Virtual World as Task in Face-to-Face Courses

In addition to the above two studies that incorporate tasks in online Chinese language curricula, another area of research evolves from virtual worlds. In Second Life, a 3-D virtual world, students can complete tasks that connect language learning with simulated real-life worlds. Second Life is similar to a multiplayer online role-play game that does not have preset rules or objectives. Online users, or 'avatars', in Second Life are able to interact with places, objectives, and other avatars to socialize, trade virtual services and property, and participate in both individual and group activities. Peterson (2006, 2009) affirms that utilizing the affordances of 3-D virtual worlds to design tasks has potential to promote cognitive processing, student-centeredness, and authentic learning experiences.

In response to curricular and pedagogical constraints, Grant and Huang (2010) integrated tasks for students to undertake in Chinese Island, a virtual world they created within Second Life, into their teacher-centered and textbook-based Chinese language curriculum for first-year learners in an Australian university. Drawing on the educational theory of constructivism proposed by Moshman (1982), they posed that the tasks undertaken by students in Second Life fulfilled the requirements of dialectical constructivist learning. One dialectical task required learners to purchase train tickets to Beijing from a railway station, and the other required them to inquire about accommodation for a foreign student studying in China. To engage in the virtual worlds, learners formed multi-user teams first, read texts in Chinese characters and listened to audio recordings, and visually scanned the virtual environment to conduct conversations with non-player characters by answering a series of questions. This facilitated collaborative work in a meaningful and communicative setting and encouraged learners to increasingly engage in the interactive features of comprehensible input and output.

The results of the survey completed by over 100 learners indicated that students positively commented on the acceptability and comfort of Second Life as a learning mode and that they recognized the value of collaborative interaction with teammates to complete a series of tasks. Students also reflected positively on their familiarity with Second Life and the development of skills necessary to complete tasks in the Second Life learning environment. The Second Life tasks helped them gain linguistic and cultural knowledge linked to real-life experience.

Following their pioneering study in 2010, Grant and Huang (2012) further developed Chinese Island to revise the traditional classroom-based curriculum and enhance the degree of

authenticity in materials, language use, and learning process. A good example of a Chinese Island task is a medical clinic task drawn from real life and extended from the textbook materials. Students interacted with preprogrammed non-player avatars to engage in an authentic doctor visit scenario in Chinese. Four hundred students participated in the experimental curriculum to role-play sick avatars and complete various stages of language tasks in order to get treated and to fully recover. Task completion was defined as cessation of the illness symptoms, and language use was automatically recorded in logs of interactive conversations for remedial instruction and research purposes. This online task in Second Life is a type of educational simulation model aimed to develop skills and capacities for purposeful objectives that transform educational learning experiences in some way. This differs from games geared toward easy and fun learning experiences that are unlikely to involve high levels of engagement and transformation (Aldrich 2009). The Grant and Huang (2012) study analyzed how learners negotiate meaning and generate communication breakdowns between learners and the non-player characters.

The avatar-embodied communication allows learners to self-repair and modify their language output when communication break downs or misunderstandings occur. Thus, learners have opportunities to link form and meaning and to notice the differences between their own utterances and those produced by non-player characters. The entire process helps learners generate pushed language output partially due to the language modeled by non-player characters, which is free from potential errors, as it is preprogrammed, accurate language use. The learner-to-expert dyads, as opposed to learner-to-learner, produce better results in remedial error correction while resembling interlocutors' interactions in real life.

Inspired by the studies by Grant and Huang (2010, 2012), Lin et al. (2014) built on the Australian tasks in Second Life in their quantitative study involving educators in Taiwan and Australia. In their study, Second Life task types mainly included information gap and reasoning gap. Along the same lines, they intended to create a student-centered curriculum to foster language production within authentic settings. In an attempt to minimize technology glitches and the resultant anxiety and stress, and to maximize comfort in the 3-D virtual world and therefore online learning results, they further employed effective grouping strategies. Specifically, teams were formed through very careful observation of learners' language proficiency, interactive patterns, and individual differences at warm-up activities. The inclusion of both oral and written instructions guaranteed access to written instructions when technology issues arose. These practical strategies ensure the smooth implementation of tasks in a face-to-face setting as well.

A subsequent study by Pasfield-Neofitou, Grant and Huang (2016) continued to advance technology in connection with task design and expanded its scope to a cross-institutional and international nexus. Based on Second Life's Chinese Island, they established Virtual Arabic in Arabic and Virtual Pratoc in Italian, both in Second Life. They work together to create websites to share their experiences, research, and resources related to virtual worlds and task design, hoping to establish sustainable communities and promote professional exchange at tertiary levels. Starting from one single language—Chinese—and now encompassing other foreign languages, Second Life as a setting for tasks has transformed from prototype to modification that expands the efficacy of virtual worlds in task-supported curricula.

Authentic tasks in Second Life settings, as used in the above four studies, are one type of application of technology-mediated TSLT. The virtual worlds are incorporated into existing curricula as modules to remedy and activate classroom-based and teacher-centered curricula. This underscores the practicality, feasibility, and transferability of TSLT, which also results in the much greater popularity of synthetic notional-functional syllabi as opposed to the analytic process-oriented syllabi in alignment of TBLT.

Tasks in Face-to-Face Courses

Adopting a synthetic syllabus composed of predetermined linguistic structures and vocabulary, Tseng (2010) made a preliminary attempt to examine task-supported instruction strengthened by effective use of multimedia resources in light of Ellis's recommendation. The study investigated 10 authentic tasks in the PPP curriculum of a third-semester Chinese course at a public university in the United States.

The 10 authentic tasks were further analyzed in accordance with the five design features of a task proposed by Ellis (2003), to ensure that the target tasks were varied in goal, input, conditions, procedure, and outcome. Inputs included photos, guided questions, dialogues, prompts, and scenarios described in handouts created by instructor; restaurant ads in newspapers; apartment ads and personal profiles on websites; and film clips. Four tasks required pair or group work, and six were completed individually. Four were prepared outside of class, and six engaged learners to start preparation in class with peers.

Of the 10 authentic tasks, the online dating task was rated by students as the most highly recommended and therefore deserves further discussion. This task asked learners to view a dating website in Chinese, create a simulated dating profile, present PowerPoint slides in class, and choose their preferred dating partners. The three communicative modes in the dating task were sequenced as interpretive, presentational, and interpersonal, which coincides with the revised version of the Integrated Performance Task (IPA) (Adair-Hauck et al. 2006). The survey results of the study indicate that the dating task received the highest ratings, except for two items that addressed whether it was manageable or difficult. Compared with other tasks, the dating task also received highest ratings in its authenticity and rich cultural elements. Along the same lines, the task was regarded as the most helpful, motivating, and interesting. However, it was rated as third in difficulty level and second in manageability. Despite the fact that it is unclear how learners defined manageability and difficulty in the survey, there is no doubt that the online dating task triggered learners' motivation and exerted the highest degree of learnability, resulting in students' willingness to accomplish it to the best of their ability and advance in their performance.

In another study, Tseng (2013) investigated an advanced course with WebQuest activities that includes tasks as core curricular modules in accordance with the three-step implementation cycle for TBLT. Recognizing that the pitfalls in Willis's framework related to its concentration on lexical learning, this study adopted Skehan's (1998) information-processing approach to design the task-based course. It was offered to heritage learners and embraced six different themes throughout one semester.

WebQuest is an inquiry-based activity that engages learners in active and constructive learning online (Dodge 1997; Jonassen 2003). Each WebQuest has six identifiable critical attributes: introduction, process, task, resources, evaluation, and conclusion, which coincidentally comply with the three-stage cycle of task implementation (Dodge 1995). 'Pre-WebQuest' refers to the introduction of the task before preparatory work that is completed prior to the planning and performance of the WebQuest. 'Core-WebQuest' involves the planning and preparation of the WebQuest task, including processing information, planning tasks, exploring resources for WebQuests, and performing the tasks. In the 'Post-WebQuest' stage, students engage in communicative, language-focused tasks to consolidate and reinforce key language elements of the target unit; these tasks allow the students' performance to be evaluated and re-evaluated. The time length of each of the three stages varies depending on the nature and goals of each theme.

The WebQuest-based course summarized above discloses the essence of a student-centered TBLT approach. However, students who are accustomed to a traditional teacher-centered

approach may feel that there is not enough coverage of vocabulary and grammar. To resolve this problem, it is recommended that linguistic components be integrated and recycled further during the post-WebQuest stage. Moving one step further, this can be reinforced by the modular language curriculum proposed by Ellis. In other words, after completing the three stages of a TBLT lesson, the instructor can guide learners to make attentional efforts in building up accuracy of language-focused elements.

The two face-to-face Chinese language courses described above incorporate tasks in different ways. One was created in relation to PPP and TSLT, representing the majority of courses in teaching Chinese as a foreign language. Different types of authentic tasks were used in the course to conclude each weekly topic learned. The other was designed in the way that accords with the three-staged TBLT approach. Although it enhances motivation and automatizes learning, instruction in vocabulary and grammar remains a concern for some learners. This points to the value of Ellis's proposed modular language program. If the course were extended to connect with TSLT to consolidate the acquisition of language learning, learners might develop required language skills in a more satisfactory way. This, however, will need to be researched further.

Conclusion

TBLT is a principled approach, not a method that stipulates step-by-step instructions or fixed sequential procedures. This multifaceted approach allows instructors to apply principles to instruction and curriculum design and accommodate the needs of their local classrooms. Tseng (2014) proposed 10 principles for effective design and implementation of different types of tasks in teaching Mandarin Chinese. The most notable of these principles are: sharing rubrics prior to assessment, before-class preview and after-class review, and adjustment for local classroom. Instructors can include tasks that they think suitable to enhance or diversify their curriculum according to the principles that can be applied for TBLT or TSLT curricula.

TBLT or TSLT

Tasks are the predominant central units in a TBLT curriculum; they are supplementary in a TSLT course. When tasks are the focus of the classroom to the detriment of other methods of teaching and assessment, learners may produce minimal language output in some settings, and their interactions with each other, a key part of authentic communication, may end up being too simple and short to be effective (Seedhouse 1999). When learners devise strategies to complete tasks quickly with minimal effort, they do not engage in the intended process of meaning negotiation (Carless 2004). With these shortcomings as well as the inflexibility of strong TBLT, there is little evidence documenting the actual implementation of the strong version of TBLT in the Chinese-language teaching community.

Changing teaching methods to design a course that takes sequenced tasks as its central organizing units requires fundamental alteration of curriculum design and material development. A more feasible option that the majority of instructors would favor is TSLT, which allows flexibility and adjustment for local decisions on how, when, where, what, who, and why. By now, none of published studies in teaching Chinese as a foreign language demonstrates the implementation of the so-called modular language curriculum that combines process-based TBLT with product-based TSLT.

In reality, instructors may revamp all units of instruction to be task-centered, or they may focus on one or several units for preliminary experimentation in the three-step cycle. In each pilot unit, instructors should start with a single task or a series of pedagogical tasks as formative

assessment, to provide insights on possible remedial instruction and material adaptation, and end a unit with a target task for summative assessment. It is worthwhile to experiment with a combination of pedagogical and target tasks for at least a unit, so that the workload may not be overwhelmingly unmanageable. Since well-designed tasks are intrinsically motivating, even adopting either pedagogic tasks or a single target task for a unit would be welcomed by learners.

From Novice to Advanced Levels

TBLT advocates, including Long and others, have consistently argued that TBLT is suitable for different levels of face-to-face instruction, ranging from novice to advanced. To what extent this is the case for teaching Chinese needs further verification. Currently practitioners easily accept that a TBLT course may be more suited for teaching Chinese for specific purposes at the advanced level than elementary level (Ellis 2009). Creating a task-based course poses a big challenge for the incorporation of required grammatical structures and vocabulary. This is particularly true for elementary and intermediate courses, which include the expectation that language components at the sentential and lexical levels be coherently and systematically arranged and organized. Time commitment is another concern. When teaching and learning in action happens in class, it may leave little or insufficient time for instructors to develop age- and level-appropriate tasks that are needed for the following stage of learning.

As of now, published materials created in alignment with TBLT are still in the experimental and explorative stages. The time investment needed to self-create instructional materials seems impractical for most instructors. A serious criticism lies in the difficulty of selection and compilation of authentic materials appropriate for novice-level courses and courses transitioning toward the intermediate level. While this may not be as much of a concern for intermediate-high courses and beyond, the tackling of authentic materials in three communicative modes may be too daunting and may keep instructors away from a TBLT curriculum, encouraging them to resort instead to TSLT, which is comparatively feasible and implementable for existing curricula. For advanced-level courses, it is more readily doable to search for and sequence authentic materials, and grammatical structures that lead to the development of advanced language proficiency are accessible through unabridged texts in different genres and contexts. TBLT has been implemented in business English courses at the advanced level (Seedhouse 1999; Stark 2005; Evans 2013) and received positive results. It would be thus logical to hypothesize that TBLT is proper for advanced courses such as business Chinese, media Chinese, conversational Chinese, or learning Chinese through TV, film, or drama.

That said, more empirical studies on task-oriented curricula need to be carried out in order to better our understanding of how TBLT curricula can be developed and implemented to achieve proximal pedagogical values and effects at the advanced level. A comparative study on TBLT and TSLT curricula is needed as well.

Teacher Training

Designing a task-based language course requires a paradigm shift. Without receiving teacher training in TBLT, instructors may lack confidence and direction. In a national study examining Chinese language teachers' perceptions and implementation of TBLT in the United States, Tseng (2017) found that although secondary instructors tended to recognize the pedagogical and curricular values of tasks and task-based language teaching more than did postsecondary instructors, they also held a lower level of confidence in implementing tasks than did postsecondary instructors. The reasons for this are unclear and require further study. The content of

training for TBLT instruction differs from that for non-TBLT instruction (Long 2017). Important components may include, in a broad sense, understanding of PPP and its limitations. More specifically, TBLT training would need to cover language learning processes such as implicit vs. explicit and incidental vs. intentional, principles for creating optimal conditions for genuine language use, and advantages and disadvantages of providing input with different degrees of simplicity and elaboration, to name a few.

Future Research Directions

One guiding principle to keep in mind is ‘edit the task, but not the text’. Instructors are encouraged to keep the authentic materials intact and revise the tasks, but not the authentic text, whether that is listening or reading (Misha 2005; Curtain and Dahlberg 2010; Shrum and Glison 2010). As technology becomes increasingly versatile, technology-mediated modes will continue to enhance and lead the development of task-related instruction and design for course, program, and curriculum. This will enrich the diversity and creativity of task design and implementation synchronously and asynchronously.

Research in task-oriented courses in the field of teaching Chinese as a foreign language is still rare. Although TBLT has become a well-known term, a sufficient number of well-tested studies is severely lacking. There is a critical need for more studies that examine the pedagogical effects of TBLT and TSLT on learners, learning outcomes, assessments, task design, and teacher and student perceptions in different modalities of teaching, including face-to-face, blended, and online.

The design of a modular language program awaits further exploration in combining TBLT and TSLT. Several studies support the notion that TBLT is well-suited for online language learning (Doughty and Long 2003; Nielson and Gonzalez-Lloret 2010; Lai, Zhao and Wang 2011), and empirical studies by Nielson (2014) and Lai, Zhao and Wang (2011) of elementary Chinese classes further validate this with evident outcomes. As Tseng (2017) states, we need ‘theory-led practice and practice-led theory’ (p. 30) to guide us on how best to implement TBLT in Chinese language curricula and instruction. It is hoped that further research will reveal more fruitful results of empirical studies of TBLT courses across different proficiency levels in teaching Mandarin Chinese as a foreign language in the near future.

References

English References

- Adair-Hauck, B., Glisan, E. W., Koda, K., Swender, E. B. and Sandrock, P. (2006) ‘The Integrated Performance Assessment (IPA): Connecting assessment to instruction and learning’. *Foreign Language Annals* 39(3): 359–382.
- Aldrich, C. (2009) ‘Learning online with games’. In *Simulations and Virtual Worlds: Strategies for Online Instruction*. San Francisco: Jossey-Ass.
- Baralt, M., Gilbert, R., Robinson, P. (eds.) (2014) *Task Sequencing and Instructed Second Language Learning*. Bloomsbury Academic.
- Brumfit, C. (1984) *Communicative Methodology in Language Teaching*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Burwell, G., González-Lloret, M., & Nielson, K. (2009) Assessment in a TBLT Spanish immersion course. In *3rd Biennial International Conference on Task Based Language Teaching*, Lancaster, UK
- Canale, M. (1983) ‘From communicative competence to language pedagogy’. In J. Richards and R. Schmidt (eds.), *Language and Communication*, 2–27. New York, NY: Routledge.

- Carless, D. (2004) 'Issues in teachers' reinterpretation of a task-based innovation in primary schools'. *TESOL Quarterly* 38(4): 639–662.
- Curtain, H.A. and Dahlberg, C.A. (2010) *Languages and Children: Making the Match, New Languages for Young Learners, Grades K-8*, 4th edn., New York: Pearson Education.
- Dodge, B. (1995) Some thoughts about WebQuests. Retrieved from http://WebQuest.sdsu.edu/about_WebQuests.html.
- Doughty, C. and Long, M. (2003) 'Optimal psycholinguistic environments for distance foreign language learning'. *Language Learning & Technology* 7(3): 50–80.
- Ellis, R. (2003) *Task-Based Language Learning and Teaching*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.
- Ellis, R. (2004) 'The definition and measurement of L2 explicit knowledge'. *A Journal of Research in Language Studies* 54(2): 227–275.
- Ellis, R. (2008) *The Study of Second Language Acquisition*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Ellis, R. (2009) 'Task-based language teaching: Sorting out the misunderstandings'. *International Journal of Applied Linguistics* 19(3): 221–246.
- Ellis, R. (2018) *Reflections on Task-based Language Teaching*. Clevedon: Multilingual Matters.
- Ellis, R. and Barkhuizen, G. (2005) *Analyzing Learner Language*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.
- Ellis, R. and Shintani, N. (2014) *Exploring Language Pedagogy through Second Language Acquisition Research*. New York, NY: Routledge.
- Evans, S. (2013) 'Designing tasks for the business English classroom'. *ELT Journal* 67(3): 281–293.
- Fotos, S. and Hossein, N. (eds.) (2007) *Form Focused Instruction and Teacher Education: Studies in Honour of Rod Ellis*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Grant, S. and Huang, H. (2012) 'Learning a second language in second life'. In J. Peterson, O. Lee, T. Islam and M. Piscioneri (eds.), *Effectively Implementing Information Communication Technology in Higher Education in the Asia-Pacific Region*, 183–199. New York: Nova Science Publishers.
- Hossein, N. and Fotos, S. (2011) *Teaching Grammar in Second Language Classrooms: Integrating Form-Focused Instruction in Communicative Context*. New York, NY: Routledge.
- Jonassen, D. (2003) *Learning to Solve Problems with Technology*. Upper Saddle River: Merrill Prentice Hall.
- Lai, C., Zhao, Y. and Wang, J. (2011) 'Task-based language teaching in online ab initio foreign language classrooms'. *The Modern Language Journal* 95(s1): 81–103.
- Leaver, B. and Willis, J. (eds.) (2004) *Task-based Instruction in Foreign Language Education*. Washington, DC: Georgetown University Press.
- Lin, T., Wang, S., Scott, G., Chien, C. and Lan, Y. (2014) 'Task-based teaching approaches of Chinese as a foreign language in Second Life through teachers' perspectives'. *Procedia Technology* 13: 16–22. Retrieved from www.sciencedirect.com.
- Littlewood, W. (2007) 'Communicative and task-based language teaching in East Asian classrooms'. *Language Teaching* 40(3): 243–249.
- Long, M. (1997) *Focus on Form in Task-Based Language Teaching*. New York: McGraw-Hill Companies. Retrieved on December 26, 2012 from www.mhhe.com.
- Long, M. H. (1988) 'Instructed interlanguage development'. In L. Beebe (ed.), *Issues in Second Language Acquisition: Multiple Perspectives*, 115–141. Rowley, MA: Newbury House.
- Long, M. H. (1991) 'Focus on form: A design feature in language teaching methodology'. In D. Kees, R. Ginsberg and K. Claire (ed.), *Foreign Language Research in Cross-cultural Perspective*, 39–52. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Long, M. H. (eds.) (2005) *Second Language Needs Analysis*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Long, M. H. (2015) *Second Language Acquisition and Task-Based Language Teaching*. Oxford: Wiley Blackwell.
- Long, M. H. (2017) 'Questions and answers on task-based language teaching'. *国际汉语教育(International Chinese Language Education)* 2(1): 88–99.
- Long, M. H. and Crookes, G. (1992) 'Three approaches to task-based syllabus design'. *TESOL Quarterly* 26(1): 27–56.
- Melissa, B., Gilabert, R. and Robinson, P. (2014) *Task Sequencing and Instructed Second Language Learning*. Bloomsbury Academic.
- Mishan, F. (2005) *Designing Authenticity into Language Learning Materials*. Portland, OR: Intellect Books.

- Moshman, D. (1982) 'Exogenous, endogenous, and dialectical constructivism'. *Developmental Review* 2: 371–384.
- Nielson, K. B. (2014) 'Evaluation of an online, task-based Chinese course'. In M. Gonza'lez and L. Ortega (ed.), *Technology-Mediated TBLT: Researching Technology and Tasks*, 295–321. Amsterdam/Philadelphia: Johns Benjamins.
- Nielson, K. B. and Gonzalez-Lloret, M. (2010) 'Effective online foreign language courses: Theoretical framework and practical applications'. *The Eurocall Review* 17: 155–168. Retrieved from www.eurocall-Languages.org/review/17/index.html#nielson_gonzalez.
- Nunan, D. (1989) *Designing Tasks for the Communicative Classroom*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Nunan, D. (2001) *Second Language Teaching and Learning*. Boston, MA: Heinle and Heinle Publishers.
- Nunan, D. (2004) *Task-Based Language Teaching*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Pasfield-Neofitou, S., Grant, S. and Huang, H. (2016) 'Task-based Chinese as a foreign language (CFL) in second life for beginner learners and educators'. In *Exploring Innovative Pedagogy in the Teaching and Learning of Chinese as a Foreign Language*, 213–233. Multilanguage Education: Springer.
- Peterson, M. (2006) 'Learner interaction management in an avatar and chat-based virtual world'. *Computer-Assisted Language Learning* 19(1): 79–103.
- Peterson, M. (2009) 'Learner interaction in synchronous CMC: A sociocultural perspective'. *Computer-Assisted Language Learning* 22(4): 303–321.
- Pica, T., Kanagy, R. and Falodun, J. (1993) 'Choosing and using communication tasks for second language instruction'. In S. Gass and G. Crookes (ed.), *Task-Based Learning in a Second Language*, 9–9. Clevedon: Multilingual Matters.
- Revesz, A., Sachs, R. and Hama, M. (2012) *Task Complexity, Type-Token Frequency, and Individual Differences on the Acquisition of Past Counterfactuals*. Unpublished paper presented at American Association for Applied Linguistics 2012 Conference, Boston, MA.
- Richards, J. C. (2001) *Curriculum Development in Language Teaching*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Robinson, P. (2011) *Second Language Task Complexity: Researching the Cognition Hypothesis of Language Learning and Performance*. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Samuda, V. and Bygate, M. (2008) *Tasks in Second Language Learning*. Basingstoke, UK: Palgrave MacMillan.
- Scott, G. and Huang, H. (2010) 'The integration of an online 3D virtual learning environment into formal classroom-based undergraduate Chinese language and culture curriculum'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 1(1): 2–13.
- Seedhouse, P. (1999) 'Task-based interaction'. *ELT Journal* 53: 149–156.
- Shrum, J. L. and Glison, E. W. (2010) *Teacher's Handbook: Contextualized Language Instruction*. Boston, MA: Heinle, Cengage Learning.
- Skehan, P. (1996a) 'A framework for the implementation of task-based instruction'. *Applied Linguistics* 17(1): 38–62.
- Skehan, P. (1996b) 'Implications of SLA research for language teaching methodologies'. In D. Willis and J. Willis (eds.), *Challenge and Change in Language Teaching*. Australia: Macmillan Education.
- Skehan, P. (1998) 'A rationale for task-based instruction'. In *A Cognitive Approach to Language Learning*, 93–120. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.
- Stark, P. (2005) 'Integrating task-based learning into a business English program'. In C. Edwards and J. Willis (eds.), *Teachers Exploring Tasks in English Language Teaching*, 40–49. London, UK: Palgrave Macmillan.
- Thomas, M. (2015) *Contemporary Task-Based Language Teaching in Asia*. London, UK: Bloomsbury Academic.
- Tseng, M. (2010) 'An experimental study of authentic tasks with multi-media resources'. In *The Proceedings of the 6th International Conference on Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 198–202. Ohio State University.
- Tseng, M. (2013) 'A preliminary study on teaching an advanced Chinese language course with WebQuest Modules'. *Journal of Chinese Teaching and Research in the US* 86–98.
- Tseng, M. (2014) *The Handbook of Tasks and Rubrics for Teaching Mandarin Chinese* (Volume I), Chicago, IL: The Phoenix Tree.

- Tseng, M. (2017) 'Chinese language teachers' perceptions of tasks and task-based language teaching'. *Journal of National Council of Less Commonly Taught Languages* 29–65.
- Van den Branden, K., Bygate, M., & Norris, J. (2009). *Task-based Language Teaching: A Reader*. Amsterdam: John Benjamins Publishing Company.
- White, R. (1988) *The ELT Curriculum Design, Innovation and Management*. Oxford: Basil Blackwell.
- Willis, D. (1993) Comments on Michael H. Long and Graham Crookes's 'Three approaches to task-based syllabus design'. *TESOL Quarterly* 27(4): 726–733.
- Willis, J. (1996a) *A Framework of Task-Based Language Teaching*. Harlow: Longman.
- Willis, J. (1996b) 'A framework for task-based learning'. In J. Willis and D. Willis (eds.), *Challenge and Change in Language Teaching*, 52–62. Oxford, UK: Macmillan.
- Willis, D. and Willis, J. (2007) *Doing Task-Based Teaching: A Practical Guide to Task-Based Teaching for ELT Training Courses and Practicing Teachers*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.
- Wright, T. (1987) *Roles of Teachers and Learners*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.
- Yuan, F. (2010) 'Impacts of task conditions on learners' output of L2 Chinese'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 45(1): 67–88.

Chinese References

- Liu, Y. 刘瑜 (2017a) 浅谈汉语教学中文本类型与任务难度的关系 (The relationship between text types and task difficulty in Chinese L2 teaching). *華文學刊 (Journal of Chinese Language Education)* 30: 1–15.
- Liu, Y. 刘瑜 (2017b) 任务类型对汉语二语口语产出中词汇复杂度的影响 (Effect of task types on lexical complexity in L2 Chinese speaking performance). *世界汉语教学 (Journal of Chinese Teaching in the World)* 31(2): 253–269.
- Tseng, M. and Chun, C. 曾妙芬, 鍾鎮城 (2017b) 台美兩地華語教師之任務型教學認知理解與推動現況研究 (Chinese language teachers' perceptions and implementation of task-based language teaching in Taiwan and the US). *臺灣華語教學研究 (Taiwan Journal of Chinese as a Second Language)* 15(2): 19–52.

Developing Communicative Competence in Adult Beginner Learners of Chinese

Clare Wright

Introduction

Across Mandarin Chinese language classrooms, as in English and other foreign-language classroom settings, a plethora of teaching methods and approaches can be found. This chapter examines a range of teaching methods which may be used for introducing Mandarin grammar to adult beginner learners in college-level language classroom settings. We discuss their strengths and potential limitations in helping learners establish linguistic proficiency in terms of grammatical knowledge, and ability to use that knowledge (i.e. communicative competence). We relate these methods to key learning mechanisms argued to underpin the development of communicative competence, drawn from research from general SLA as well as research into the specific challenges in learning Mandarin. We explore how far such communicative approaches may be found in teaching Western learners of Mandarin, both in terms of learners' developing abilities to express themselves fluently, and in Chinese teachers' beliefs and expectations about effective ways of teaching Mandarin Chinese as a Foreign Language (CFL). We illustrate these theoretical and methodological issues with two recent studies into communicative practices among adult CFL learners in the UK. These findings provide some context to understand challenges for Western CFL learners moving towards communicative competence.

Background

The twentieth century has seen swings in language pedagogy between highly structured explicit focus on language form, typically grammar, through to direct 'immersion' or implicit communicative approaches, influenced to some extent by developments in Second Language Acquisition (SLA) research (Xing 2006). Different language policies and curriculum goals may specifically aim to build up communicative abilities—e.g. in changes to English-language teaching policies across Asia since the 1990s (Littlewood 2007). These communicative goals may be exemplified in international language assessment standards such as the Common European Framework of Reference (CEFR), the American Council on the Teaching of Foreign Languages' (ACTFL) Proficiency Guidelines, or Australia's Curriculum for Languages (Lu 2011; Orton 2016). Many teachers would say they aim to use communicative or task-based approaches to meet their

students' ambitions of being able to communicate (Whong 2013), although such teaching in reality is often within constraints imposed by institutional expectations of assessments which may be more focused on formal knowledge, typically grammar-based (Liviero 2017; Ranta and Lyster 2018).

Communicative approaches to teaching are founded on principles of fostering spontaneous productive skills (Savignon 2007; Whong 2013); this approach supports the ability of learners to move away from over-reliance on reciting explicitly learned set chunks, towards more creative communication using underlying implicit knowledge (Wright 2018b). However, even assessments which now include speaking, e.g. the International English Language Testing System (IELTS), and the Test of English as a Foreign Language (TOEFL), can reward communication using memorized chunks rather than testing spontaneous authentic interaction (McCarthy 2010). Building up creative communicative abilities thus may remain problematic for many second language (L2) learners, even after years of instruction (Wright and Schartner 2013; Chen and Wright 2016).

For Chinese Foreign Language (CFL) classrooms, it is argued that traditional Confucian-based classroom practices (e.g. Jin and Cortazzi 2011) as well as typological linguistic distance, brings language-specific challenges in developing spontaneous communicative abilities in Mandarin (Han 2014). Many Chinese teachers' beliefs may stress the importance of first establishing a clear, explicitly explained, well-entrenched knowledge of linguistic forms and structures of Mandarin, which can then lead to communicative use (Poole and Sung 2015; Wang and Higgins 2008; Wang, Moloney and Li 2013). Here we take grammar in a broad sense (referring to all the elements affecting phrase structure and word order rules, such as for expressions of time and place, optionality of pronouns and some verbs, as well as grammatical morphemes (e.g. marking aspect, possession, relative clauses) and Mandarin-specific structures (such as resultative verb compounds, *bǎ* 把 and *bèi* 被 constructions).

As in all language teaching, how to ensure learners develop grammatical knowledge causes a possible tension between an emphasis on developing explicit knowledge of grammar rules, and the implicit ability to use grammatical knowledge appropriately and spontaneously as the foundation of communicative ability, particularly in adapting speech to different task demands. We turn now to the long-heated debate in SLA research over the claimed explicit/implicit dichotomy and its implications for teaching, especially in relation to Mandarin.

Explicit vs. Implicit Learning for Communicative Competence

Within general models of first and second language learning, linguistic knowledge and use are seen as relying on two separate but connected memory systems working in parallel (Wright 2010, 2018b). Our explicit or declarative system stores information, or knowledge 'that. . .', for example that Beijing is the capital city of China, that *wǒ* 我 means 'I' in English. Declarative linguistic knowledge thus includes both semantic information about word meaning, and meta-linguistic knowledge about language rules—e.g. that you can finish yes/no questions in Mandarin using the question marker *ma* 吗, or what the changes in basic subject-verb word order is for Mandarin relative clauses, in which the relative nominal clause goes before the subject noun, e.g. 我喜欢郎朗弹的钢琴协奏曲 *wǒ xǐhuān Láng Lǎng tàn de gāngqín xiézuǎn* ('I like the piano concerto that Lang Lang played', from Xing 2006: 161). Such knowledge can be taught explicitly, and can be consciously accessed, but is processed relatively slowly.

Our procedural or implicit system stores knowledge 'how. . . '—such as knowing how to construct a grammatically accurate sentence without conscious thought. This system includes fast, unconscious and automatic learning and processing mechanisms involved in children's

first-language acquisition and use. Arguments have long raged over whether the mechanisms of implicit learning remain available for L2 learning, or if L2 learning is fundamentally different (see, e.g., Han and Finneran 2014; Mitchell, Myles and Marsden 2013). Simply put, evidence is mixed over whether explicitly learned linguistic knowledge can be practised until it becomes implicit, or whether implicit knowledge is learned by picking it up from context, and how far the two systems may be separate yet co-supportive.

This debate lies at the heart of assumptions in linguistic theory and pedagogic practice about how to become communicatively competent. Developments in Western language teaching methodology around the 1980s highlighted the restrictions of traditional overtly explicit grammar translation approaches, and situational limitations of audio-lingual drilling, which had been prevalent methods up to that point (see Larsen-Freeman and Anderson's useful and practical overview 2011). Psychological theories around the same time promoted the notion of boosting effective learning by doing, rather than memorizing, and granting students greater autonomy through active learning (e.g. Biggs 1993). At a similar point, linguistically informed ideas about the potential for L2 learning to resemble children's first-language acquisition were being developed, both from expanding interest in Chomskyan ideas of innate linguistic learning mechanisms, and combining these within the sociocultural value of language as communication, not just abstract form (Hymes 1972; Halliday 1985). These in combination prompted the rise of Communicative Language Teaching or CLT (Canale and Swain 1980; Savignon 2007), not so much a method but an approach aimed at achieving both knowledge and proficient use of knowledge through natural communication (Whong 2013). Typically, a communicatively focused classroom would include a high-level of input and interaction where the main focus is on meaning, rather than form, since CLT-oriented teachers would assume learning of form would happen implicitly (Lightbown and Spada 2013). However, in studies in Canadian communicative classrooms, for example, students became more fluent, as hoped, but seemed to have persistent difficulties in reaching expected grammatical norms of accuracy (Lightbown and Spada 2013). In addition, the practical realities of managing large classes in communicative activities, or assessing progress, seemed to limit the value of CLT for many teachers or institution managers (Johnson 2001). The pendulum thus swung back to more explicit grammar-based teaching, e.g. Form-Focused Instruction (Nassaji and Fotos 2004).

If L2 learning is essentially a matter of explicitly noticing and storing linguistic information, and practising it, then the more form-focused instruction and repetition the better, and communicative competence has to be based on practice in and out of class supported by good learner strategies (Cohen and Macaro 2008) to make the practice sink in. However, there is plenty of evidence that automaticity in using linguistic knowledge, even in relatively fluent speech, may not be related to the amount of explicit study that may have gone on, even over many years (Lightbown 2000; Wright 2010). Students may well be able to quickly recognize many words and grammatical rules, and repeat set phrases very fluently in familiar contexts, but may feel, even at advanced levels or after living in the target language country, that they still cannot really express themselves creatively (Wright and Schartner 2013).

It was this kind of evidence that prompted a rethink about teaching methods focusing on the value of activities using language, rather than activities about language, taking a 'post-methods' eclectic approach adapted to local contexts (Kumaravadivelu 2003), and including a more integrated, task-based approach to teaching (see, e.g., Ahmadian and Garcia Mayo 2018 for a recent overview). Like many methods, there are a range of ways of interpreting Task-Based Language Teaching or TBLT (Chen and Wright 2016; Li, Ellis and Zhu 2016). In essence, a task should primarily be meaningful (rather than focused on form), culturally authentic, and motivating; it should involve some communicative problem-solving activity, such as making a poster, planning

a holiday, and for which success lies in the outcome of the activity, not the language used (Willis 1996). If new linguistic knowledge is needed, tasks can be prepared by prior focus on vocabulary, or materials used can make specific structures salient and followed up by post-task language-focused activities. This way, students can maximize the knowledge they have already in an engaged and authentic way, and those who do not yet have strong command of particular structures should be more likely to learn them in the context of completing the task.

Tasks can be simple or complex in their design and cognitive load (Robinson and Gilabert 2013), which in turn may affect the language being used (Awad, Tavakoli and Wright 2017). Level of task demand, such as familiarity, planning time, degree of interaction, may be found to affect language performance, in ways that more or less mirror the kind of demands found in real-life communication (Segalowitz 2010). Task-based teaching is thus claimed to provide a well-founded holistic approach to language learning suitable for any level and any language including Chinese as a second or foreign language (CFL) (Li, Ellis and Zhu 2016). Indeed CFL teacher training programs in China seem currently to incorporate much from English-language teaching methods (Zhao and Huang 2010). For some CFL researchers, communicative language teaching and learning, and the notion of joining language and culture to build authenticity in communicative competence, are in principle seen as important for CFL development (Everson and Xiao 2009; Xing 2006).

There are of course plenty of criticisms of task-based methods (Ellis 2009), and many experienced teachers have not had training in how to adapt their teaching to task-based materials and plans, leading them to feel relatively unable to implement tasks in their classrooms. In effect class time may prioritize explicit focus on formal knowledge, though there may be communicative ‘task-like’ activities at times (Chen and Wright 2016). Such teaching is known as task-supported rather than task-based (Li, Ellis and Zhu 2016), and may not really differ in practice from grammar-based teaching. Teachers themselves may emphasize formal knowledge as the best route for success, even in communicative classrooms, particularly at lower levels of proficiency (Chen and Wright 2016).

There is also some evidence of a sense among Chinese teachers that CLT and TBLT are Western teaching methods designed for second language teaching, with limitations when used for foreign-language teaching, e.g. English in China (Hu 2002). Thus, despite Xing’s (2006) and others’ support noted above, some teachers may never see CLT or TBLT as inherently relevant for L2 Mandarin pedagogy (Mao and Min 2004). But, as noted in most language policies, international assessment frameworks and language course curricula, there is an expectation to be able to use language effectively to interact with others, including target language speakers. The goal for most learners therefore will typically include being able to speak as effectively as possible, either for general communication or specifically for assessments (such as the newly introduced speaking tests in Hanban’s suite of exams for Chinese language proficiency (Hanyu Shuiping Kaoshi, or HSK, http://english.hanban.org/node_8002.htm). So, what are the implications for developing communicative effectiveness in Mandarin? And how is this debate over explicit practice vs implicit exposure played out in pedagogic practice, given the current massive explosion of L2 Mandarin teaching? We now turn to recent developments in teaching Mandarin in Western settings, to provide a context for the empirical studies which finish this chapter.

History of Teaching Mandarin to Western Learners

Mandarin is a quickly growing second or foreign language both around the world and in China itself—by 2020 there are expected to be over half a million Mandarin learners of Chinese in China (China Scholarship Council 2013), who come from over 180 countries, registered for

either degree or non-degree courses, according to recent reports from China's University and College Admission System (CUCAS 2013). This rapid growth is reflected in Western countries such as the US, Australia, and the UK in recent changes to language policy and strategic interest in Mandarin. The US Department of Education reported that, after Spanish, Mandarin is the most popular dual-language education program in many states (Duncan and Gil 2015). In Australia numbers taking Mandarin at school level have recently doubled, reflecting national policies of boosting Mandarin as a second language (Orton 2016).

In the UK, Mandarin is now ranked second in importance to the future of the UK in economic terms (Tinsley and Board 2017), with various initiatives in place to increase Mandarin teaching (Wang and Higgins 2008; Zhang and Li 2010). Student numbers on university Mandarin courses are rising every year, compared to a steady decline in modern foreign language take-up generally (Tinsley and Board 2017; Zhang and Li 2010). Over 13 percent of state secondary schools in England now offer Mandarin in some form, alongside 46 percent of independent schools. In terms of teaching approach; some schools, such as Kingsford state school in east London, aim to differentiate Mandarin from traditional European foreign languages by highlighting how 'fun' it can be (Perez Milans 2015).

This explosion of interest in teaching and learning Mandarin (Duff et al. 2013) is recognized in the growing field of Chinese as a Foreign Language (CFL) pedagogical research and practitioner scholarship, arising from the many professional teacher bodies, and range of journals promoting Chinese language and linguistic research. There is a rich emerging literature on teacher beliefs and attitudes, in relation to their experiences of moving from China to overseas teaching settings, such as the US, Australia or UK, and it should be acknowledged that such experiences can raise important complex cultural, political, and emotional questions of what kind of Chinese languages and dialects can and should be taught in Western settings (e.g. Cai and Ebsworth 2017; Hua and Wei 2014; Wang 2011; Wang, Moloney and Li 2013; Wu 2017). Our primary focus here is more on language pedagogy, exploring links between SLA and teaching practices relating to Western learners' ability to develop communicative competence in Mandarin, and to examine evidence of what beginner-level learners can demonstrate in communicative activities, even after a relatively short time of studying Mandarin.

Xing (2006) argues that a successful, effective language teacher is 'capable of integrating what to teach with how to teach, and thereby pass on language competence to students and enable students to use it in communication' (p. 268). Yet recent studies note a lack of Chinese language teachers trained in modern second/foreign-language pedagogy (Kwoh 2007; Orton 2016; Wang and Higgins 2008; Zhang and Li 2010). Few specific studies as yet have investigated in detail pedagogic methods used in Mandarin classrooms (McLelland 2015; Orton 2016), particularly those with a theoretical SLA underpinning (e.g. Han 2014; Xing 2006).

Briefly, most models of SLA based on European languages suggest there are common stages of linguistic development, which can be tracked through increasing targetlike use of typically simpler structures through to more complex syntax. Some are based on developing relevant abstract formal features; in other words, underlying implicit knowledge of target language structures must be developed before the ability to apply that knowledge effortlessly in real time. Such structure-building models may be illustrated through changes in verbal structures, where simple Verb Phrase elements are acquired first, e.g. verbs which can take objects or not, then acquiring morphosyntax for inflections (e.g. tense, aspect, agreement, negation, interrogatives); compound sentential structures such as relative clauses, subordination, passive, topicalization are acquired last. Difficulties in acquisition are typically ascribed to L1 transfer, or difficulties matching syntactic to semantic or pragmatic discourse features. Grammatical information can be explicitly taught, but is assumed to be a separate source of knowledge—communicative success

lies in learners being given time to develop implicit knowledge, usually through extensive input (e.g. reading for pleasure, listening to general conversation), providing sufficient exposure and opportunity to produce language (Han and Finneran 2014).

Other, usage-based, models, such as Halliday's (1985) systemic functional grammar, assume that L2 development is based on cognitive processing and typical functional demands—learning shorter, more frequent constructions, then moving to longer, more complex structures. Learning is based on memory and attention—noticing the surface form in the input, storing construction knowledge alongside appropriate semantic and discourse constraints. Difficulties arise in noticing non-salient or rare elements, or producing longer, more complex patterns to fit the functional context. Rich explicit input and lots of practice can help make explicitly presented input turn into implicit knowledge. Most SLA models, either formal or usage-based, assume that early stages consist of memorizing familiar chunks, which might contain quite complex syntax—but stored as multi-word formulaic units. The question arises at what stage these chunks become reanalyzed into specific grammatical rules to allow creative communication using implicit knowledge (Myles 2004), and how much time such creative knowledge takes to develop, given the limited time most instructed learners have.

To date, there have been few systematic longitudinal studies of the stages of development of Mandarin grammar acquisition, (at least published in English). Yet Mandarin poses interesting linguistic and cognitive challenges for the kind of SLA models alluded above—does Mandarin demonstrate a predictable hierarchy of developmental stages for developing implicit grammatical knowledge? And is acquisition of underlying syntactic rules the key challenge for learners of Mandarin, or is it more a question of how quickly a learner can memorize a wide range of vocabulary—in other words, does explicit vocabulary learning come first (Lewis 1997)? Finally, does communicative competence lie more in pragmatic and discourse knowledge to help plan the overall sentence structure—if so, how might memorization or exposure to rich input help develop this knowledge? Therefore the question of the role of explicit memorization, versus implicit learning, is very relevant for learning Mandarin, which We examine next in two key aspects.

First, Mandarin can be said to be an easy language for Anglophone learners in terms of grammar (Hu 2010). The lack of overt morphosyntax, e.g. for case, tense, and gender, can seem welcome to the beginner learner. Wh-question words remain in-situ, rather than moving to the front as in English. Many simple phrases can thus be memorized or relatively easily composed, even with a limited vocabulary. Some elements of Mandarin grammar may be easily learnable through comparison with English forms (such as possessive *de* 的). In reality, many very common grammar points are different from English syntax, such as the variability of *shì* 是 copula, the scope of perfective *le* 了, and the long-distance reference for *zìjǐ* 自己 reflexive pronoun (Zhao 2011). Also, it is difficult to construct more than a short phrase without planning the whole utterance first (Zhao 2011), given strict rules on word order (e.g. for time and geographical expressions), complex phrase structures, semantic, and pragmatic constraints on information structure, such as topicalization and relative clauses (Huang and Yang 2005; Xing 2006).

The limited number of syllables (420 in total) makes internal word structure superficially easy to identify, especially in pinyin, but creates many polysemous and polyphonous words leading to potential for confusion. The multiple form–meaning mappings required in Mandarin can be seen even in very early stages in the many uses of common morphemes, such as the three forms for the functional marker *de*: 的, 得 and 地 and the varieties of verbal *shǐ* and *shì*, 使, 始, 是, 试 (let alone other forms). Such multiple forms require tonal accuracy, alongside discourse and pragmatic knowledge, to identify and use correctly, even before knowing the written character form.

Second, the character-based writing system means learners cannot use written input to help build form–meaning–sound connections for interpreting unfamiliar words (at least until more advanced levels when they may have gained some knowledge of the phonetic components in characters), which limits learners’ capacity for incidental learning or seeking opportunities for extensive input via self-study. Learning to read and write characters has to be done explicitly, putting an emphasis on activities of explicit memorization and drilling, which carry a heavy cognitive load, especially for Western learners with a different writing system (Wang, Perfetti and Liu 2005). It may thus run counter to the goal of building creative communicative competence through pushed output—i.e. speaking as a route to learning, not a result of learning. Several teaching approaches have therefore delayed presenting characters, though there remains a lively debate over the cognitive, linguistic, and pedagogic benefits and limitations of doing so (see, e.g. Packard 1990; Knell and West 2017).

As noted earlier, general publications on research and practice in teaching and learning Mandarin (e.g. Han 2014; Han 2017; Tao 2016; Lu 2017; Ke 2018) have begun to make valuable contributions to our understanding of L2 Mandarin. Hu’s (2010) cross-sectional study of UK-based learners confirms that students at higher proficiency levels were able to find listening and speaking easier, though grammatical accuracy in writing and speaking seemed to remain challenging up to advanced levels. Therefore, one question to address is how to better understand the internal mechanisms of how L2 Mandarin communicative competence develops over time including how far productive use of grammatical structures relies on explicitly learned pattern drills, or on implicit learning (Yuan and Dietrich 2004; Wright 2018a).

A second issue lies in identifying how instructed development of communicative competence may be supported and assessed in Anglophone settings. Currently, it seems ‘. . . no adequate syllabus has been set up which meets the needs and objectives of overall curriculum requirements as well as reflecting how L1 English speakers learn Chinese’ (Zhang and Li 2010: 92). However, recent textbooks with more communicative activities included are emerging, such as *Integrated Chinese*, *Discover China* and *Chinese in Steps*, all designed with the Western college learner in mind. A range of technological aids have further added to teachers’ repertoires and enabling students’ self-study—through various apps and other online resources. Some language courses have gone entirely online with several MOOCs now available for Mandarin from beginner levels, which can have impressive effects. A recent study of MOOC-supported study by *ab-initio* Anglophone learners in a Study Abroad context found significant gains in communicative abilities, both in fluency as well as grammatical knowledge, during only one semester (Wang, Na and Wright 2018).

Nevertheless, there still seems to be little pedagogy training, e.g. in Chinese university teaching degree courses, to prepare novice teachers for Western learners who are likely to have more expectations of communicative language learning approaches (Wang and Higgins 2008; Wang, Moloney and Li 2013). In some recent studies, teachers still hold the belief that good teaching should give ‘more prominence to routine and memorization’ (Perez Milans 2015: 177), based on prescribed lists of characters to learn, and regularly use drill classes for choral repetition. In such contexts, speaking is likely to be based more on audio–lingual memorization for reciting slot and fill structures, rather than developing spontaneous communicative competence.

It seems then that learning grammar beyond the level of reciting drills in a Western communicative classroom remains a challenge both for typical *ab-initio* learners and teachers. To illustrate this challenge, in the rest of this chapter we report data from two recent exploratory case studies of adult UK-based learners. We look at how using grammatical knowledge fluently and effectively in communicative tasks (i.e. communicative competence) may be affected (a) in general terms, by experiences in different settings (part-time evening classes vs full time degree

courses) and (b) in specific linguistic terms, in how task demands impact on assessing communicative competence. These case studies aim to show that the sense of relying on learned chunks and highly frequent if limited lexis may remain well entrenched through several years of study (Jin 2004), whether full time or part time, and may be affected by teacher beliefs, or types of speaking tasks, even despite time spent in China.

Evidence of Developing Communicative Competence From Case Studies of Western Learners of Mandarin

Beliefs About Communicative Learning Held by Part-Time Learners and Teachers

The first case study addresses challenges about learning and teaching when students are part-time and input is limited; hence teachers' beliefs about how best to foster student communicative abilities can have a marked effect. The data reported here are part of a wider study being carried out at a UK Confucius Institute (CI), tracking teachers and students' beliefs, attitudes, and practices about teaching and learning Mandarin. Most of the teachers are Hanban-recruited volunteers, who take typically a year out of their studies in China to teach language and cultural activities to part-time students. Teachers usually have a BA in CFL, or Translation, and some are midway through relevant MA studies (e.g. in applied linguistics). Students are mainly local professionals, across a wide age-range, usually meeting in weekly evening lessons to fit round their professional work. CI classrooms such as this one typically claim to deliver a communicatively aimed curriculum, aiming to keep students motivated as they build up their knowledge across all four skills, and encouraging but not requiring students to test their progress through HSK exams. Not much additional out-of-class contact is provided, e.g. in online forums, but students are encouraged to find a tandem language partner from Chinese students at the university, and join in regular cultural activities laid on by Confucius staff. The CI classroom is thus an example of highly restricted taught input, where the teacher's own views on teaching as imparting explicit knowledge vs. enabling implicit development of communicative ability will shape the structure of the lessons, and creates a heavy reliance on students' own motivation to make progress (Ushioda 2017). Student comments are taken from a sample of five learners across a range of proficiency levels (HSK1 beginner, up to HSK 5 advanced), and from a sample of four CI teachers. All participants were recruited as volunteers, following ethical approval, meeting the researcher for 1–1 semi-structured interviews, which were audio-recorded and then orthographically transcribed for subsequent data-driven thematic analysis.

Some of the students demonstrated clear extrinsic motivation (to speak to a Chinese partner, or because they did some work in China), but most expressed a strong intrinsic motivation for taking up Mandarin—one beginner-level student said it 'was out of curiosity, I'd always been fascinated by China since a child', another said 'as I get older, I want to try something new, something challenging; I love writing out the characters'. A third said 'I travel for work in China and I want to know how to say something when I'm there'. The chance to visit China through an organized trip proved motivating, particularly for the chance to build up communicative abilities, as articulated by two higher-level students. One of the students going on the trip, at an intermediate level (HSK3), reported that their motivation lay in an interest in languages generally; they expressed their personal sense of 'kudos' or pride in learning 'such a difficult language' as Mandarin, but felt some frustration at not being able to chat fluently. Their interest in the trip was to see if hearing Mandarin on a daily basis would make any difference to their perceived ability to communicate. The second student was already at a higher level (HSK5), with

a Chinese-speaking partner; they recognized that they ‘know a lot’, but still believed that they could not express themselves freely, and relied heavily on memorized patterns; again they hoped that getting the chance to be in China would trigger more fluent and free speaking ability. These experiences attest to the difficulty facing students even after years of studying and with a high-level of explicit knowledge of Mandarin grammar in developing creative communicative competence.

Teachers themselves reported frustration in not knowing how best to meet such students’ needs, given the wide range of motivation and goals for studying at the Institute. Four volunteer teachers were interviewed—all reported being aware of a range of teaching methods including structured grammar approaches, and general communicative and task-based methods, but reported they had not received any specific pedagogic training before arriving in the UK. They generally saw the value of trying to be flexible to meet student needs, and to keep motivation and enjoyment levels high, as the students were part-time, not degree students. They reported they used a combination of methods needed, but differed in their emphasis on grammar then speaking, or both together. Some teachers believed a more communicative approach is ‘good for more advanced students’ (i.e. more than two to three years’ study), but one teacher also tried to encourage speaking at beginner levels, practicing familiar role-plays e.g. ordering food, so that ‘lower-level students can manage simple communicative tasks using their own creative phrasing’. This teacher also believed using music and videos were useful to help ‘multimodal’ learning, especially to help listening. They also recognized that students often have ‘the fear of speaking’, and it was important to be very encouraging but also to push them, as ‘even a little fear can help’—seeing the teacher’s role as helping break through the challenge of speaking (Horwitz 2001; Wright and Schartner 2013).

Others in the group emphasized the importance of grammar and character knowledge from the start—‘you have to know characters’; they are an ‘important connection to the past’ and help provide ‘cultural references’ which then helps to learn grammar and vocabulary. One teacher believed that too much reliance on pinyin was ‘not a good way’. This teacher was especially worried about use of keyboards to type in pinyin rather than write characters—they believed ‘even some Chinese people are losing ability to write characters’. However, one teacher acknowledged the connection between speaking, grammar, and writing—while explicit grammar and character knowledge may seem important to a teacher, it may be ‘not important to students at first’. For a student, ‘speaking gives confidence to learn writing’; the teacher’s main task is to get the students trying to say something, they can ‘feel the grammar’ when they speak. Another teacher emphasized the importance of learning grammar—‘good knowledge first is needed’ before speaking.

All teachers used a range of methods for vocabulary teaching separately from grammar, or from communication activities; vocabulary was mainly presented explicitly through techniques such as flashcards, word lists, regular drilling and quizzes, using a combination of pinyin and characters. The teachers shared the belief that regular assessment was necessary—‘so students can see how much they have learned . . . it can be motivating for them’. All teachers also emphasized the need for tone accuracy, and aimed to use drills to try to build up students’ knowledge of pronunciation, again often as a separate activity from word or grammar learning; they acknowledged that most Western learners often struggled to hear or produce tones.

In combination, these comments suggest that confidence and consistency among teachers in teaching communicatively can be varied, and that students can feel frustrated even after years of study at being limited in their capacities for free creative expression. This mismatch between expectation and achievement in developing communicative competence is of course common to many instructed L2 classroom settings (Savignon 2007; Liviero 2017), not just L2 Mandarin

classes. Post-interview discussions with teachers in this study suggest that more emphasis is given in Mandarin teacher training to activities designed to build up linguistic knowledge rather than fostering fluency and communicative interaction, and that little space is given to theories of acquisition and applied linguistics pedagogy. Further research is needed to systematically review the degree of communicatively oriented teaching in typical Mandarin teacher training programs. Given that teaching materials now exist that include communicative activities, and as Hanban and other examination authorities start to include more speaking elements in Mandarin assessment, We suggest greater emphasis could be given in teacher training programs to understanding the value and importance of incorporating communicative tasks effectively, so that trainee teachers could feel more confident about applying such task-based approaches more consistently in the classroom even from the start of the Mandarin learning experience.

Effects of Task on Communicative Competence

The second study takes the discussion on from the earliest stages of learning to assess evidence of progress towards greater communicative competence found in full-time students, rather than the part-time learners discussed earlier. However, even for full-time students, managing to move from relying on memorized chunks to more creative communication can still be challenging, particularly in different tasks, and which may even resist exposure to intensive language immersion through study abroad. The data discussed here (as part of a wider study of university degree student language development, discussed in Wright 2018a) aim to illustrate the effects that different tasks may have on communicative competence. Wright (2018a) followed 10 students learning Mandarin full time in a UK university tracking development before and after a year's study abroad; the students had started *ab initio* and had been learning for two years before going abroad; classroom teaching took mainly a form-focused and drill-centered approach. They were tested using four different oral tasks, to compare performance in monologic speech (talking on a prepared topic vs a spontaneous picture description) with dialogic speech (doing a role-play vs taking part in an unprepared discussion); each task lasted no more than two minutes (for more details, see Wright 2018a). There are many measures for analyzing communicative competence (Wright and Tavakoli 2016)—here we report on total amount spoken (output), speed of output (articulation rate), mean length of run (MLR), and lexical diversity (measured through Guiraud's index—G). We argue that these variables can illustrate a growing reliance on implicit knowledge, indicated in efficient use of a wide range of grammatical and lexical knowledge, produced relatively quickly in well-connected longer utterances (rather than more limited output, produced in short hesitant bursts). Through these measures, we aimed to shed light on how far different tasks may affect communicative competence, and how time abroad may affect task performance.

We expected that the prepared monologue should provide a baseline of 'performative competence' (Wright 2018b)—as the students had time to rehearse this, the task should be facilitated by the use of memorized chunks and highly frequent simple vocabulary (Myles 2004). If so, we predicted that the other tasks would show lower levels of performance, affected by assumed increases in cognitive demand as the tasks demanded greater levels of creative spontaneous expression (from the rehearsed dialogue, then the unrehearsed description, to the unrehearsed chat as the most demanding). To some extent this seemed true—as seen in Table 8.1 above, Output, Articulation Rate, and Lexical Diversity (G) were highest in the rehearsed monologue than the other tasks, but the expected decrease in performance across the four tasks through to the spontaneous dialogue was not found. The description task showed a faster Articulation Rate than the dialogues, despite being unprepared, and showed the longest MLR of all. Both unprepared tasks showed less Lexical Diversity, suggesting that preparation either for a dialogue

or a monologue could help students to rely on memorized chunks and frequent lexis. However, dialogic speech seemed to favor other measures—the unprepared dialogue had higher scores on Output, Articulation Rate, and MLR than the role-play.

We can see from these findings that communicative competence is not unidimensional, in that a degree of memorization can aid unprepared speech as well as prepared speech. The highest Output and Lexical Diversity for the prepared monologue suggests the learners had mastered some routines that displayed their knowledge well, but the shorter runs suggested they could only do this with simpler constructions and phrases, rather than longer, i.e. more complex, utterances. By comparison the longer runs found in the unprepared monologue allowed the students to demonstrate their own ability to construct phrases that would not rely so much on memorized chunks, though this affected their total Output, Articulation Rate, and Lexical Diversity. However, this ability to produce longer runs was not seen in the dialogues which both showed shorter runs than the monologues—perhaps for pragmatic reasons, in not wanting to seem to dominate the interaction, but the findings need further exploration to verify this speculation.

By Time 2, all measures improved, though not statistically significantly—see Table 8.2. Therefore it can be seen that study abroad helped learners' communicative competence to some extent, at least according to the measures used here. In addition, some of the task patterns differed—by Time 2, the unprepared dialogue had the highest Output, and the greatest Lexical Diversity, though did not change much in Length of Run; as before, the unprepared monologue still had the longest Mean Length of Run.

In order to see if the slightly higher Diversity scores might in fact reveal speakers' more creative expressions, we looked in more detail at the most common words used before and after study abroad (Time 1 vs Time 2)—see Table 8.3.

Table 8.1 Speech performance across four tasks at Time 1

	<i>Topic (rehearsed monologue)</i>		<i>Description (spontaneous monologue)</i>		<i>Role-Play (rehearsed dialogue)</i>		<i>Chat (spontaneous dialogue)</i>	
	<i>Mean</i>	<i>(SD)</i>	<i>Mean</i>	<i>(SD)</i>	<i>Mean</i>	<i>(SD)</i>	<i>Mean</i>	<i>(SD)</i>
Output	169.90	(44.20)	120.70	(39.71)	123.86	(55.24)	140.43	(45.24)
Articulation Rate	2.85	(0.48)	2.15	(0.27)	1.67	(0.26)	1.90	(0.33)
Mean Length of Run	1.52	(0.65)	2.20	(0.44)	1.27	(0.54)	1.49	(0.70)
G (Lexical Diversity)	5.56	(0.96)	5.05	(0.49)	5.23	(0.91)	5.04	(0.33)

Table 8.2 Speech performance across four tasks at Time 2

	<i>Topic (rehearsed monologue)</i>		<i>Description (spontaneous monologue)</i>		<i>Role-Play (rehearsed dialogue)</i>		<i>Chat (spontaneous dialogue)</i>	
	<i>Mean</i>	<i>(SD)</i>	<i>Mean</i>	<i>(SD)</i>	<i>Mean</i>	<i>(SD)</i>	<i>Mean</i>	<i>(SD)</i>
Output	290.60	(101.28)	174.40	(78.29)	162.00	(47.11)	305.00	(100.02)
Articulation Rate	3.09	(0.27)	2.70	(0.92)	2.45	(0.27)	2.77	(0.32)
Mean Length of Run	1.87	(0.46)	2.69	(0.28)	1.61	(0.41)	1.69	(0.33)
G (Lexical Diversity)	6.07	(0.41)	5.67	(0.66)	5.79	(0.52)	6.66	(0.67)

Table 8.3 Most common words across all tasks, comparing Time 1 and Time 2

Ranking	Time 1	Time 2
1	pronoun; 我 (I, 261 times)	particle; 的 (437 times)
2	particle; 的 (146 times)	copula; 是 (be, 204 times)
3	adverb; 很 (very, 115 times)	verb; 有 (have, 168 times)
4	adjective; 好 (good/okay, 63 times)	adjective; 好 (good/okay, 107 times)
5	verb; 喜欢 (like, 41 times)	classifier; 个 (95 times)
6	copula; 是 (be, 51 times)	adjective/ preposition; 对 (yes/ to, 66 times)
7	verb; 有 (have, 47 times)	negation marker; 不 (60 times)
8	negation marker; 不 (40 times)	adverb; 很 (very, 41 times)
9	preposition; 在 (at, 40 times)	pronoun; 你 (you, 37 times)
10	pronoun; 你 (you, 26 times)	numeral; 一 (one, 22 times)

The similarity across this list of most frequent words, backed up by the lack of change in Length of Run, seems to reflect that this group of learners tended to rely on similar lexical choices and relatively non-complex sentence structures, at both times, suggesting that it can be difficult to demonstrate clear advances in creative communicative competence even after a year's Study Abroad. The very small group size here means that our conclusions have to remain speculative; further research is needed on other larger corpora of students in Study Abroad settings (such as the Guangdong-Lancaster Chinese Learner Corpus, www.sketchengine.eu/guangwai-lancaster-chinese-learner-corpus/) to check the generalizability of these findings at different proficiency levels, or after varying lengths of time studying abroad.

However, the clear differences across tasks even after study abroad provide an indication to students and teachers that effective communicative competence can be strongly affected by task type. This is useful to recall both for formal speaking assessments, but also in general expectations of how variable the construct of communicative competence really is.

Conclusion

We have explored here a range of challenges facing Western beginner learners of Mandarin developing communicative competence, particularly in terms of being able to use the language grammatically accurately and appropriately. We also explored the many varied motivations learners may have in aiming to achieve communicative competence. Equally we have illustrated a wide range of beliefs among teachers how to inculcate such development, reflecting a strong traditional commitment to the need and benefit of memorizing and mastering the complexities of Mandarin grammar, lexis, tones, and characters right from the start as the bedrock for language use. However, we also see an interest in teaching more communicatively, with little explicit grammatical or character teaching at early stages, suggesting communicative methods can work even for beginners. We argue that there is no single correct way to teach Mandarin for communicative competence. It has been observed that there is still a lack of coherence and consistency in Mandarin teacher training in relation to Western learner expectations (Wang, Moloney and Li 2013; Wang and Higgins; Wu 2017). We suggest there could be clear advantages within the holistic, multimodal approach to language learning inherent within a task-related approach to teaching which could benefit the specific challenges of mastering Mandarin grammar and building communicative competence together. We acknowledge that well-informed task-based teaching can be challenging, and does not yet seem widespread among many CFL

teacher training programs. However, as language teaching may be increasingly moving to an eclectic postmethod approach (Kumaravadivelu 2003), task-inclusive classes for Mandarin grammar—well integrated with other elements of learning—would seem to offer an effective way forward for teachers and learners alike.

References

- Ahmadian, M. and Garcia Mayo, M. (eds.) (2018) *Recent Perspectives on Task-Based Language Learning and Teaching*. Berlin: De Gruyter Mouton.
- Awwad, A., Tavakoli, P. and Wright, C. (2017) ‘“I think that’s what he’s doing”: Effects of intentional reasoning on second language speech performance’. *System* 67: 158–169.
- Biggs, J. (1993) ‘From theory to practice: A cognitive systems approach’. *Higher Education Research and Development* 12: 73–86.
- Cai, C. and Ebsworth, M. (2017) ‘Chinese language varieties: Pre- and in-service teachers’ voices’. *Journal of Multilingual and Multicultural Development* (online), doi: 10.1080/01434632.2017.1397160.
- Canale, M. and Swain, M. (1980) ‘Theoretical bases of communicative approaches to second language teaching and testing’. *Applied Linguistics* 1: 1–47.
- Chen, Q. and Wright, C. (2016) ‘Contextualization and authenticity in TBLT: Voices from Chinese classrooms’. *Language Teaching Research* 21(4): 517–538.
- China Scholarship Council. (2013) China update: Chinese government to support 50,000 international students in 2015. Retrieved on December 1, 2013 from www.csc.edu.cn/laihua/newsdetailen.aspx?cid=208.
- Cohen, A. and Macaro, E. (2008) *Language Learner Strategies: 30 Years of Research and Practice*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- CUCAS. (2013) 5 reasons to study in China. Retrieved on May 19, 2013 from www.cucas.edu.cn/Home-Page/content/content_126.shtml.
- Duff, P., Anderson, T., Ilnyckij, R., Van Gaya, E., Wang, R. and Yates, E. (2013) *Learning Chinese: Linguistic, Sociocultural, and Narrative Perspectives*. Berlin and Boston: DeGruyter.
- Duncan, A. and Gil, L. (2015) *Dual Language Education Programs: Current State Policies and Practices*. Washington, DC: U.S. Department of Education, Office of English Language Acquisition. Retrieved on August 28, 2018 from www.air.org/sites/default/files/downloads/report/Dual-Language-Education-Programs-Current-State-Policies-April-2015.pdf.
- Ellis, R. (2009) ‘Task-based language teaching: Sorting out the misunderstandings’. *International Journal of Applied Linguistics* 19: 221–246.
- Everson, M. and Xiao, Y. (2009) *Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language: Theories and Applications*. Boston: Cheng and Tsui Company.
- Halliday, M. A. K. (1985) *An Introduction to Functional Grammar*. London: Edward Arnold.
- Han, J. (2017) *Post-Lingual Chinese Language Learning*. London: PalgraveMacMillan.
- Han, Z.-H. (ed.) (2014) *Studies in Second Language Acquisition of Chinese*. Clevedon: Multilingual Matters.
- Han, Z.-H. and Finneran, R. (2014) ‘Re-engaging the interface debate: Strong, weak, none, or all?’. *International Journal of Applied Linguistics* 24(3): 370–389.
- Horwitz, E. (2001) ‘Language anxiety and achievement’. *Annual Review of Applied Linguistics* 21: 112–126.
- Hu, B. (2010) ‘The challenges of Chinese: A preliminary study of UK learners’ perceptions of difficulty’. *The Language Learning Journal* 38(1): 99–118.
- Hu, G. (2002) ‘Potential cultural resistance to pedagogical imports: The case of Communicative Language Teaching in China’. *Language Culture and Curriculum* 15(2): 93–105.
- Hua, Z. and Wei, L. (2014) ‘Geopolitics and the changing hierarchies of the Chinese language: Implications for policy and practice of Chinese language teaching in Britain’. *Modern Language Journal* 98(1): 326–339.
- Huang, Y.Y. and Yang, S. (2005) ‘Telicity in L2 Chinese acquisition’. In L. Dekydtspotter et al. (eds.), *Proceedings of the 7th Generative Approaches to Second Language Acquisition Conference (GASLA 2004)*. Somerville, MA: Cascadilla.

- Hymes, D. (1972) 'On communicative competence'. In J. Pride and J. Holmes (eds.), *Sociolinguistics*. London: Penguin.
- Jin, H. G. (2004) 'The role of formulaic speech in teaching and learning patterned Chinese structures'. *Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association* 39(1): 45–62.
- Jin, L. and Cortazzi, M. (eds.) (2011) *Researching Chinese Learners' Skills, Perceptions and Intercultural Adaptations*. London: Palgrave MacMillan.
- Johnson, K. (2001) *An Introduction to Foreign Language Learning and Teaching*. Harlow: Longman Pearson.
- Ke, C. (ed.) (2018) *The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Second Language Acquisition*. London and New York: Routledge.
- Knell, E. and West, N. (2017) 'To delay or not to delay: The timing of Chinese character instruction for secondary learners'. *Foreign Language Annals* 30(1): 519–532.
- Kumaravadivelu, B. (2003) 'A postmethod perspective on English Language Teaching'. *World Englishes* 22(4): 539–550.
- Kwoh, S. (2007) 'Mainstreaming and professionalizing Chinese-language education: A new mission for a new century'. *Chinese America: History and Perspectives* 21: 261–264.
- Larsen-Freeman, D. and Anderson, M. (2011) *Techniques and Principles in Language Teaching*, 3rd edn. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Lewis, M. (1997) *Implementing the Lexical Approach: Putting Theory into Practice*. Hove: Language Teaching Publications.
- Li, S., Ellis, R. and Zhu, Y. (2016) 'Task-based versus task-supported language instruction: An experimental study'. *Annual Review of Applied Linguistics* 36: 205–229.
- Lightbown, P. (2000) 'Classroom SLA research and second language teaching'. *Applied Linguistics* 21: 431–462.
- Lightbown, P. and Spada, N. (2013) *How Languages are Learned*, 4th edn. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Littlewood, W. (2007) 'Communicative and task-based language teaching in East Asian classrooms'. *Language Teaching* 40(3): 243–249.
- Liviero, S. (2017) 'Grammar teaching in secondary school foreign language learning in England: Teachers' reported beliefs and observed practices'. *Language Learning Journal* 45(1): 26–50.
- Lu, S. (2011) *Using Tasks Effectively to Teach Chinese as a Foreign Language to College Students in the U.S.A.* Unpublished PhD Dissertation. Seton Hall University.
- Lu, Y. (ed.) (2017) *Teaching and Learning Chinese in Higher Education*. London/New York: Routledge.
- Mao, L. and Min, Y. (2004) 'Foreign language education in the PRC: A brief overview'. In M. Zhou and H. Son (eds.), *Language Policy in the People's Republic of China—Theory and Practice Since 1949*. Boston: Kluwer Academic Publishers.
- McCarthy, M. (2010) 'Spoken fluency revisited'. *English Profile Journal* 1(1): 1–15.
- McLelland, N. (2015) 'Teach yourself Chinese—How? The history of Chinese self-instruction manuals for English speakers, 1900–2010'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 50(2): 77–120.
- Mitchell, R., Myles, F. and Marsden, E. (2013) *Second Language Learning Theories*, 3rd edn. London: Routledge.
- Myles, F. (2004) 'From data to theory: The over-representation of linguistic knowledge in SLA'. *Transactions of the Philological Society* 102(2): 139–168.
- Nassaji, H. and Fotos, S. (2004) 'Current developments in research on the teaching of grammar'. *Annual Review of Applied Linguistics* 24: 126–145.
- Orton, J. (2016) 'Issues in Chinese language teaching in Australian schools'. *Chinese Education & Society* 49(6): 369–375.
- Packard, J. (1990) 'Effects of time lag in the introduction of characters into the Chinese language curriculum'. *The Modern Language Journal* 74: 167–175.
- Perez-Milans, M. (2015) 'Mandarin Chinese in London education: Language aspirations in a working-class secondary school'. *Language Policy* 14: 153–181.
- Poole, F. and Sung, K. (2015) 'Three approaches to beginning Chinese instruction and their effects on oral development and character recognition'. *Eurasian Journal of Applied Linguistics* 1(1): 59–75.
- Ranta, L. and Lyster, R. (2018) 'Form-focused instruction'. In P. Garrett and J. Cots (eds.), *The Routledge Handbook of Language Awareness*, 40–56. New York: Routledge.

- Robinson, P. and Gilabert, R. (2013) 'Task-based learning: Cognitive underpinnings'. In C. Chapelle (ed.), *The Encyclopaedia of Applied Linguistics*. Oxford: Wiley-Blackwell.
- Savignon, S. (2007) 'Beyond communicative language teaching: What's ahead?'. *Journal of Pragmatics* 39: 207–220.
- Segalowitz, N. (2010) *The Cognitive Bases of Second Language Fluency*. New York: Routledge.
- Tao, H. (ed.) (2016) *Integrating Chinese Linguistic Research and Language Teaching and Learning*. Amsterdam: Benjamins.
- Tinsley, T. and Board, K. (2017) *Languages for the Future*. London: British Council.
- Ushioda, E. (2017) 'The impact of Global English on motivation to learn other languages: Toward an ideal multilingual self'. *The Modern Language Journal* 101(3): 469–482.
- Wang, D., Moloney, R. and Li, Z. (2013) 'Towards internationalising the curriculum: A case study of Chinese language teacher education programs in China and Australia'. *Australian Journal of Teacher Education* 38: 116–135.
- Wang, J., Na, A. and Wright, C. (2018) 'Enhancing beginner learners' oral proficiency in a flipped Chinese foreign language classroom'. *Computer-Assisted Language Learning*, doi.org/10.1080/09588221.2017.1417872.
- Wang, L. and Higgins, L. (2008) 'Mandarin teaching in the UK in 2007: A brief report of teachers' and learners' views'. *Language Learning Journal* 36(1): 91–96.
- Wang, M., Perfetti, C. and Liu, Y. (2005) 'Chinese–English biliteracy acquisition: Cross-language and writing system transfer'. *Cognition* 97: 67–88.
- Wang, X. (2011) 'Which language? Which culture? Which pedagogy? A study of Mandarin Chinese teachers' perceptions of their professional self in a British school context'. *Tilburg Papers in Culture Studies* 4: 1–34.
- Whong, M. (2013) 'A linguistic perspective on communicative language teaching'. *Language Learning Journal* 41: 115–128.
- Willis, J. (1996) *A Framework for Task-Based Learning*. London: Longman.
- Wright, C. (2010) *Working Memory Effects in SLA*. Saarbrücken: VDM Publishing.
- Wright, C. (2018a) 'Effects of time and task on L2 Mandarin Chinese language development during study abroad'. In C. Sanz and A. Morales-Front (eds.), *Routledge Handbook of Study Abroad Research and Practice*. New York: Routledge.
- Wright, C. (2018b) 'Research in memory and processing in SLA'. In C. Wright, M. Young-Scholten and T. Piske (eds.), *Mind Matters in SLA*. Bristol: Multilingual Matters.
- Wright, C. and Schartner, A. (2013) "'I can't . . . I won't?'" International students at the threshold of social adaptation'. *Journal of Research in International Education* 12(2): 113–128.
- Wright, C. and Tavakoli, P. (2016) 'New directions and developments in defining, analysing and measuring L2 speech fluency'. *International Review of Applied Linguistics in Language Teaching* 54(2): 7378.
- Wu, M.-H. (2017) 'Examining Mandarin Chinese teachers' cultural knowledge in relation to their capacity as successful teachers in the United States'. *Asian-Pacific Journal of Second and Foreign Language Education* 2(11): 1–19.
- Xing, J. X. (2006) *Teaching and Learning Chinese as a Foreign Language: A Pedagogic Grammar*. Hong Kong: Hong Kong University Press.
- Yuan, F. and Dietrich, S. (2004) 'Formal instruction, grammatical teachability, and acquisition of Chinese as a second/foreign language'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 39(2): 1–18.
- Zhang, G. and Li, L. (2010) 'Chinese language teaching in the UK'. *The Language Learning Journal* 38: 87–97.
- Zhao, H. and Huang, J. (2010) 'China's policy of Chinese as a foreign language and the use of overseas Confucius Institutes'. *Educational Research for Policy and Practice* 9(2): 127–142.
- Zhao, Y. (2011) 'A tree in the wood: A review of research on L2 Chinese acquisition'. *Second Language Research* 27(4): 559–572.

Part III

Teaching Chinese Pronunciation and Characters



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Some Explicit Linguistic Knowledge for Chinese Pronunciation Teaching

Bei Yang

Introduction

In the field of language teaching, teachers often do not have effective methods to teach L2 pronunciation, so students often develop or maintain heavy native-language influenced accents. In some cases, Chinese language learners become highly proficient in Chinese, but retain their very heavy accents (and do not lose them even after long-term exposure to and use of Chinese), which some consider a type of pronunciation fossilization. In this chapter we discuss how and why this happens. We review what teachers need to learn to understand explicitly how to diagnose and teach Chinese pronunciation.

Trends for language teaching in the past several decades have focused on pedagogical methods and how to utilize technology to aid language teaching, while explicit knowledge of linguistics has been ignored to some degree. And by explicit knowledge we mean when the reasoning and systems behind the rules are explained to and known by the learner. This is different from implicit knowledge, which is when one knows what to say, but does not know why one is supposed to say things in that way, and moreover, cannot explain to someone else why one is supposed to say things in that way. This trend of a lack of explicit knowledge is especially strong in the field of pronunciation teaching. There are several reasons.

First, some linguistic knowledge is gained but then takes a long time to filter into language teaching. For example, Generative Second Language Acquisition (GSLA) researchers have provided many insightful views about pronunciation acquisition (White 2003); however, most of the generative researchers' work on understanding the nature of language and language acquisition is theory-based and does not immediately produce implications for language teachers. Thus, the results from the generative framework are hard to transfer to the education field, and the results trickle down slowly. Therefore, language textbooks, generally do not provide (many) explicit explanations for the grammatical rules for teachers or students, much less the latest updated results and findings from research.

However, explicit linguistic knowledge sometimes is very useful and crucial for language teaching, especially when it comes to pronunciation teaching. For example, there is a unique vowel /y/¹ in Chinese as well as in French. Some teacher researchers have been interested in how to teach this vowel to L2 learners whose L1 does not have it. Common methods include

(but are not limited to) audio-visual training and through a communicative approach. However, if a teacher knows a little about the tongue position of vowels, it will be easier to teach this sound. According to the position of the tongue, /i/ and /y/ are the same, but only the shape of the lips is different: /i/ is unrounded, while /y/ is rounded. Therefore, a language instructor could explicitly explain how to produce /y/: first produce /i/, then keep the position of the tongue, i.e. keep producing /i/, and change the shape of the lips, then the sound that a student produces will be changed from /i/ to /y/.

Second, most instructors lack enough phonological and phonetic knowledge to provide explicit explanation to students. When a language instructor provides feedback on students' L2 pronunciations, the teacher mainly depends on intuition (Derwing and Munro 2005; Levis 2005).

Third, compared to teaching explicit knowledge, communicative teaching approaches are more popular in the field of language teaching. Meanwhile, language pedagogy in the classroom focuses more on language in use, as opposed to meta-linguistic knowledge. Language teaching experts generally do not encourage instructors to explain explicit rules, although the findings by some researchers have indicated that explicit knowledge and explanation are more helpful than implicit knowledge and instruction in some situations (Norris and Ortega 2010).

No matter what, language instructors should have at least some basic linguistic knowledge (phonetic and phonological knowledge, in the current chapter) that could directly transfer to language teaching. Explicit knowledge could support teaching, in that the teachers could then explicitly explain the rules when needed. Explicit knowledge would help instructors with syllabus design and in preparing teaching materials that focus on pronunciation. Additionally, if L2 learners have any motivation to learn linguistic knowledge or have meta-linguistic questions, an instructor equipped with explicit meta-linguistic knowledge would be able to answer them. This chapter aims to explore how teachers can utilize phonological and phonetic knowledge to teach Standard Chinese (SC) which is well known as *Putonghua* pronunciation.

Standard Chinese (SC) is a language much different from English or other European languages, which makes its pronunciation even harder to teach. There are three reasons. First, SC is a tone language, in which tones are used to distinguish meanings. It is very hard for learners (especially older ones) whose L1 is a non-tone language to learn tones. Second, the written system of Chinese is based on characters, which are not directly related to pronunciation. This is totally different from an alphabetic system. Therefore, some Romanization methods have been promoted since 1900 (Chen 1999). In 1964, *Pinyin* became an auxiliary Romanization officially in Mainland China. Now when L2 learners of Chinese start to learn SC, they must learn *Pinyin* first. However, the spelling rules of *Pinyin* are different from that in English or some European languages. Meanwhile, sometimes, the characters with the same SC pronunciations (the same in *Pinyin*) are totally different. Third, some unique sounds in SC, like j, q, x, zhi, chi, shi, ü, etc., are also challenging for L2 learners to acquire. This chapter explores how to teach or help L2 learners acquire tones, *Pinyin*, and some unique consonants and vowels in SC, from a linguistic perspective.

Tones

Tones are the salient features in SC that are used to distinguish lexical meanings. There are four lexical tones in SC. Among them, Tone 3 (T3) is the most difficult tone to teach because of its contour and T3 *sandhi*. In some Chinese textbooks, such as *Integrated Chinese*, some linguistic rules for tones including T3 and T3 *sandhi* are described. However, language instructors sometimes still need more knowledge about how to teach these tones and how to answer students'

questions about variations of T3 and *Sandhi* tones. Much research has been conducted in the field of tone acquisition (e.g. Sun 1997; Yang 2015; Yang 2016; Godfroid, Lin and Ryu 2017; Zhang 2018), in this section, the focus will be on T3, T3 *sandhi* and the gap between perception and production.

The Nature of T3 and Its Pedagogy

In SC, T1 is a high-level tone which means the tone pitch is high and the contour is flat; T2 is a rising tone; T4 is a falling tone; while T3 is a dipping tone in which the contour rises first and then falls. Shen and Lin (1991) found that the difference between T2 and T3 is the turning point of the contours. They found that there is a little fall at the beginning of T2 contour, yet the duration of the fall is much shorter than the fall contour of T3. On the contrary, the rising contour of T2 is much longer than that of T3. Thus, people can distinguish T2 and T3 based on this turning point. However, if we regard T3 as a *toneme* (a phoneme distinguished from another only by its tone) phonologically, it has several phonetic variations in context. Table 9.1 lists T3 variations and their contexts (Yang 2015). According to Table 9.1, normally T3 is a low falling tone except in isolation or clause boundary contexts.

In the current tone pedagogy, the dipping nature of T3 in isolation and the falling nature of T3 in context are pervasively accepted by Chinese language educators. For a long time, T3 has been taught as a full T3, i.e. falling first and then rising. In classroom teaching, language instructors compare T3 with T2, telling students that T2 is a rising tone, while T3 falls first and then rises. Many instructors have used body language, such as nodding the head and then raising the head, or using a hand to visualize the falling and rising contours, to emphasize the dipping nature (see Baills et al., 2018). Based on this, many students may become confused about T2 and T3. Much research has indicated that T2 or T3 is the most difficult tone for perception or production (e.g. Sun 1997; Hao 2012; Yang 2015; Zhang 2016), and the T2/T3 pair is the most confusing pair for perception. This difficulty probably was caused by the pedagogy that put too much emphasis on the difference between T2 and T3 when really there is less of a difference there than normally explained.

Some major textbooks, such as *Integrated Chinese I*, 2009, interpret the nature of half 3rd tone, i.e. the falling nature of T3 in context. Some Chinese language instructors have taught ‘half 3rd tone’ in the classroom, and this method has also been promoted during teacher education (Bi 2010). It is important that language educators have noticed the different pronunciations of T3 in different contexts. However, students still cannot produce T3 accurately. Three points need be incorporated to T3 pronunciation teaching. First, the T3 phonetic variation in clause boundary is missing. Teachers need to tell students that T3 is a dipping tone when located in a clause or a sentence boundary. Second, teachers should mention that the fall of T3, which is a low fall,

Table 9.1 Variations of T3

Pitch value	Context			
	Isolation	Before another T3	Utterance boundary	Elsewhere
35	-	+	-	-
21	-	-	+	+
214	+	-	+	-

is different from the high fall of T4. Third, teachers should emphasize the importance of pausing a little bit after producing a low fall. This pause allows a listener to hear the rise before the starting point of the following tone, since the end of T3 generally is at the lowest point. In this way, a listener can perceive the dipping tone when a student only produces a low falling tone. The third suggestion reveals the gap between production and perception. Other examples can be seen in the section of the gap between perception and production.

There has been a tradition to teach T3 as a low tone in the field of Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language (TCFL), although not many modern Chinese language instructors use this method. Though this convention developed from teaching experience, it is not based on any theoretical foundation, which probably is the reason why it was not promoted in academia.

However, recent research found that the nature of T3 is a low tone (Zhu 2012). Many scholars have found different phonetic variations of T3 in field and laboratory research, and the pitch contours of T3 can be rising, flat, or falling. However, the pitch must be located in the low register of the phonological system of SC. Therefore, teaching T3 as a low tone is an appropriate way, and it is easy for non-native speakers (NNS) to acquire T3. Basically, an instructor just needs to ask students to sing ‘do, re, mi, fa, so’ musically, then tell them that ‘fa’ is T1 and ‘do’ is T3. Then the instructor can sing different vowels at ‘fa’ and ‘do’, to help students experience the low pitch of T3. The reason why the low tone can be perceived as T3 is that a person generally perceives a short fall when the start point of a tone is low² and a short rise after the endpoint when a tone is low.

T3 Sandhi

T3 *Sandhi* is famous in SC. It describes that the first T3 changes to T2 when two T3 are carried by a disyllabic word. For example,

Xizao洗澡 T3+T3 T2+T3 (1a)
Shower (take a shower)

This change is mainly triggered by OCP (Obligatory Contour Principle, Goldsmith 1976). This *sandhi* rule is explicitly introduced in the general Chinese language textbook, such as *Integrated Chinese*. It is easy to acquire this single *sandhi* rule. However, when this *sandhi* rule works along with other rules, it becomes more complicated.

First, there is a neutral tone in SC. The neutral tone is generally carried by the second syllable of a disyllabic word. The duration of the neutral tone is much shorter than the four citation tones. The neutral tone is also called the light tone in SC. When T3 *sandhi* works with the neutral tone, T3 carried by the first syllable may be produced differently.

Yizi	椅子	T3+T3	T3+T0	(2a)
Naozi	脑子	T3+T3	T3+T0	(2b)
Laohu	老虎	T3+T3	T2+T0	(2c)
Laoshu	老鼠	T3+T3	T2+T0	(2d)
Xiangxiang	想想	T3+T3	T2+T0	(2e)
Xixi	洗洗	T3+T3	T2+T0	(2f)
Nainai	奶奶	T3+T3	T3+T0	(2g)
Haohao	好好	T3+T3	T3+T0	(2h)

Generally speaking, if the second syllable of T3+T3 carries a suffix (2a and 2b), the first tone is still read T3. If the first syllable of T3+T3 carries a prefix (2c and 2d), the first tone is read T2.

If a disyllabic word is a duplicated word, there are two ways to change tones. First, if a disyllabic duplicated word is a verb (2e and 2f), then the tone carried by the first syllable is changed to T2. However, if a disyllabic duplicated word is a noun (2g) or an adjective (2h), the first tone is still read T3.

More complicated situations exist in phrases that carry more than three T3. In those cases, native speakers sometimes produce the same phrases differently (Shen 1991). Therefore, teachers could ask students to read following teachers to gain some sense.

我洗澡。	T3+T3+T3
我奶奶洗澡。	T3+T3+T3+T3+T3
我奶奶想洗澡。	T3+T3+T3+T3+T3+T3
我奶奶想好好洗澡。	T3+T3+T3+T3+T3+T3+T3+T3

The Gap Between Perception and Production

Tone production is mainly at the phonetic level, which allows variations, while perception is at the phonological level, which needs categories or phonemes (Yang 2012). Such difference between production and perception can facilitate tone perception.

Sometimes, even if the tones are the same phonetically, i.e. they have the same pitch values and duration, they may be perceived differently in two different contexts where the nearby tone contours or/and heights influence the perception of the tone categories (Yang 2015). Yang (2011) provided an example, the disyllabic word *kǎnzài* (砍在, cut on), which carries T3 for the first syllable and T4 for the second syllable. When the order of the two syllables in this word is changed, and the tone carried by *zai* is still perceived *zài* and the tone carried by *kan* is changed to *kàn* by native speakers (NS) of Chinese, i.e. another word *zàikàn* (在看, be looking) would be heard.

On the other hand, when two tones are different phonetically, they may be perceived as the same. As we mentioned in section of the nature of T3 and its pedagogy, if a low tone's pitch contour is rising, flat, or falling phonetically, it could be perceived T3 phonologically.

The gap between perception and production provides an opportunity for NNS to acquire more native-like (easily comprehensible) tones. It allows teachers to tolerate different variations of a segment or a tone. Only if native speakers can perceive a sound within a sound category in Mandarin Chinese, is the pronunciation perceived as correct, that is, not leading to miscomprehension. For example, T3 has several variations during production. The ultimate goal of the pedagogy is for listeners to hear the T3 category phonologically, whatever the tonal variation produced by the Chinese language learner. Therefore, in cases where T3 is taught as a low tone, students may just use a low starting point of the tone to trig a fall perceived at the beginning of T3, and use the low endpoint to trig a rise at the end of T3. The pedagogy of teaching T3 vs T2 by focusing on the dipping contour of T3 and the rising contour of T2 always confuses students, which makes T2 and/or T3 the most difficult tone to be learned.

One of the greatest difficulties that learners face is to produce tones in context; in other words, it is hard for them to produce serial tones. The most important unit in Mandarin Chinese is the disyllabic word. So it is very important for learners to produce disyllabic tones accurately. Some studies (Yang and Yang 2019) indicated that although learners produced different tone contours, native speakers perceived them as correct. This case also shows that teachers need to provide more variations of the same sound category for learners to listen to, instead of insisting on teaching how to produce a sound accurately. The focus should be on how to help learners produce sounds that native speakers will perceive as comprehensible and non-confusing.

Pinyin

Introduction of Pinyin

Pinyin, the abbreviation of *Hanyu Pinyin*, is an auxiliary tool used to transcribe *Putonghua*'s pronunciation, mainly at the phonological level. *Pinyin* employs the Roman alphabet, but it is not considered a Chinese writing system.

Pinyin adopts Chinese traditional syllable structure (Figure 9.1a), which is different from the Western syllable structure (Figure 9.1b).

In each Chinese syllable (Figure 9.1a), there are three components: the initial, which is an onset only containing consonants; the final, which is a rhyme containing vowels and nasal consonants that is optional in a syllable; and the tone. There are 21 initials (if we do not include the zero initial), 39 finals, and four lexical tones plus a neutral tone in SC.

Table 9.2 lists all the initials and the medials in *Putonghua*, as well as a consonant final ending /ŋ/. Since there are no consonant clusters in *Putonghua*, each initial is a consonant. Consonant /ŋ/ only occurs at the end of a syllable, i.e. in the position of a final ending.

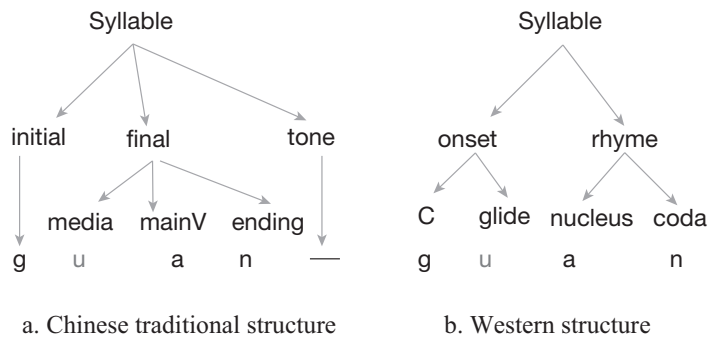


Figure 9.1 Structure of a Chinese syllable

Table 9.2 Initials in SC

	Oral Stop		Fricative		Affricate		Nasal	Proximant	lateral
	Voiceless		Voiceless	Voiced	Voiceless		Voiced	Voiced	Voiced
	Unaspirated	Aspirated			Unaspirated	Aspirated			
Bilabial	b /p/	p /p'/					m /m/		
Labio-dental			f /f/						
Alveolar	d /t/	t /t'/	s /s/		z /ts/	c /tʂ'/	n /n/		l /l/
Retroflex			sh /ʂ/	r /ʐ/	zh /tʂ/	ch /tʂ'/			
Palatal			x /ɕ/		j /tɕ/	q /tɕ'/	y /j/	y /ɥ/	y /ɥ/'"
Velar	g /k/	k /k'/	h /x/				ng /ŋ/	w /w/'"	

Note: The symbols between two slashes are IPA (International Phonetic Alphabet), and the alphabet before IPA is *Pinyin*.

* /ŋ/ is a final ending, which only occurs at the end of a syllable.
** /j/, /ɥ/, /w/ are not initials. They are medials that are semi-vowels.

Table 9.3 Consonants in SC

<i>The places that obstruct the airflow</i>	<i>Place 1 (Western)</i>	<i>Place 2 (Chinese)</i>	<i>Pinyin</i>	<i>IPA</i>
Both lips	Bilabial	Bilabial	b p m	p p' m
Upper teeth & lower lip	Labiodental	Labiodental	f	f
A tongue tip/glade & teeth	Alveolar	Tongue tip and tip-blade	d t n l z c s	t t' n l ts ts' s
Tongue tip/blade & the back of the alveolar ridge	Post-alveolar (Retroflex)	Tongue blade	zh ch sh r	tʂ tʂ' ʂ ʐ
Tongue blade/front & palatal	Palatal	Tongue back	j q x y	tɕ tɕ' ɕ j ɣ
Tongue back & velum	Velar	Tongue root	g k h ng w	k k' x ŋ w

As we know, there are two major differences between consonants and vowels. The first is the function. In Chinese, most consonants are located at the beginning of syllables, so they are called initials; while vowels are located in the middle or/and at the end of syllables, so they are classed as finals. The second difference lies in the manner of articulation. The air is blocked or highly restricted (with a closed articulation point) somewhere when a person produces a consonant, yet this does not happen when producing vowels. If the places where people block or highly restrict the air are different, then the consonants are different. Generally, for a single consonant, there are two places in the mouth that move closer and then touch, blocking or highly restricting the airflow. One articulation point is on the upper of the oral cavity, and the other is on the bottom. Traditional Chinese linguists use the names of the bottom places of the articulation to name the features of consonants, while Western linguists use the names of the upper places of the articulation (see Table 9.3). Teachers of Chinese sometimes are sometimes confused about this, but actually, these two names refer to the same features.

There are three kinds of finals in SC: single-vowel finals, multiple-vowel finals, and nasal finals. Meanwhile, there are three medials in SC, which are i, u, and ü. Table 9.4 lists three kinds of finals, the second column lists all basic finals, and the last three columns list the finals that carry medial i (column 3), medial u (column 4), and medial ü (column 5). The three medials, i, u, and ü, themselves are basic finals too. In other words, i, u, and ü could be the main vowels in the syllables.

There are four tones in SC. The tones are used to distinguish lexical meaning in SC. Table 9.5 lists four tones, examples, and their features.

Tricky Sounds: Pinyin Letters and Vowels

Each letter in *Pinyin* represents one or more vowels, e.g. i represents three vowels /i/, /ɿ/, and /ʅ/, while a vowel could be represented by a letter or several different letters. Therefore, some L2 learners of Chinese may feel that some letters have different pronunciations in different finals when they acquire *Pinyin*.³

Wang (2009) raised three common non-natives speakers' misunderstandings of *Pinyin* (pp. 41–43). The first is that learners are confused about the relationship between the letters and the vowels, i.e. they regard each letter as a real vowel pronunciation. For example, Wang mentioned that two vowels could be used at the end of a final, which are /i/ and /u/. Then many students are confused: why can 'o' in 'ao' be an ending too? Here, learners mistakenly regard the letter 'o' as a pronunciation /o/. In *Pinyin*, 'ao' represents the real pronunciation /au/.

Table 9.4 Finals in SC

<i>Medial</i>		<i>i /j/</i>	<i>u /w/</i>	<i>ü /ɥ/</i>
Single-vowel finals	a /a/	ia /ja/	ua /wa/	
	o /o/		uo /wo/	
	e /ɤ/			
	ê /ɛ/	ie /jɛ/		üe /ɥɛ/
	i /i, ɿ, ʅ/			
	u /u/			
	ü /y/			
Multiple-vowel finals	er /ə/			
	ai /ai/		uai /wai/	
	ei /ei/		ui /wei/	
	ao /au/	iao /jau/		
Nasal finals	ou /ou/	iu /jou/		
	an /an/	ian /jɛn/	uan /wɛn/	üan /ɥɛn/
	en /ən/	in /in/	un /wən/	ün /ɥn/
	ang /aŋ/	iang /jaŋ/	uang /waŋ/	
	eng /əŋ/	ing /iŋ/	ueng /wəŋ/	
	ong /uŋ/	iong /yʊŋ/		

Note: The symbols between two slashes are IPA (International Phonetic Alphabet), and the alphabet before IPA is *Pinyin*.

Table 9.5 Tones in SC

<i>Tone Category</i>	<i>Pinyin Example</i>	<i>IPA Transcription</i>	<i>English Meaning</i>	<i>Classical Tone Category Name</i>	<i>Pitch Value</i>	<i>Tone Contour</i>
T1	tāng	thaŋ ⁵⁵	soup	yinping	55	level
T2	táng	thaŋ ³⁵	candy	yangping	35	rising
T3	tǎng	thaŋ ²¹⁴	lie down	shangsheng	214	dipping
T4	tàng	thaŋ ⁵¹	burning hot	qusheng	51	falling

The second misunderstanding is that learners sometimes mistake the writing format of *Pinyin* for the real pronunciation of the syllables when a media and a main vowel are combined. For example, many learners fail to pronounce un, iu, and ui, mostly because they follow their *Pinyin* format. Actually, these three finals in *Pinyin* are abbreviations of their real sounds /uən/, /iəu/, and /uei/. Another example that Wang mentioned is the serial syllables ‘bo’, ‘po’, and ‘mo’. Many beginners write ‘buo’, ‘puo’, and ‘muo’ in *Pinyin* during dictation. It is true that there is a medial ‘u’ between ‘b/p/m’ and ‘o’ in the production, although the medial ‘u’ is weakened. Experts

simplified the syllables ‘buo’, ‘puo’, and ‘muo’ to ‘bo’, ‘po’, and ‘mo’ in *Pinyin*, to make the system simple (Wang 2005; Zhao 1985). Therefore, in a real teaching context, we sometimes need to use *Pinyin* to explain the pronunciations instead of teaching pronunciations solely based on *Pinyin*. Third, learners set the standards for each *Pinyin* letter, i.e. they match each letter to a specific pronunciation, so that when they read the letter, they can read aloud a pronunciation, and when they hear a pronunciation, they can write down the letter. It is very convenient. However, in *Pinyin*, there is no such connection between a letter and the real pronunciation. Therefore, such a connection or standard may cause many mistakes. For example, in *Pinyin*, the letter ‘i’ represents three single-vowel finals, /i/, /ɿ/, and /ʅ/.

In this section, we discuss the relationship between the *Pinyin* letter and the real pronunciation of some vowels from two perspectives. One is about the phonological category and phonetic variations, in which four ‘tricky’ letters in *Pinyin*, a, o, e, and i, are discussed. The other is about abbreviation, i.e. in which contexts some letters representing the real vowels are omitted.

Phonological Category and Phonetic Variations

There are 14 finals containing the letter ‘a’ in *Pinyin*. Table 9.6 lists all of them. The first column lists all the finals that contain ‘a’ in *Pinyin*, and the second column shows the narrow IPA transcription for the finals. It shows that the real pronunciation of a letter ‘a’ might be different from one to another in different finals. Totally, there are four variations of ‘a’. When the letter ‘a’ is used to represent a single-vowel final, it is the central /A/. When ‘a’ is placed before a front vowel, such as /i/, or the alveolar nasal /n/, the real pronunciation is /a/ or /ɛ/. When ‘a’ is placed before a back vowel, such as o (/u/), or the velar nasal ng (/ŋ/), the real pronunciation is the back /ɑ/. The variations of ‘a’ in finals reflect the rule of anticipatory coarticulation (Zhao 1985). The real pronunciation of ‘a’ varies according to the following segment (vowel or consonant), while the previous segment does not influence the pronunciation of ‘a’. Therefore, even

Table 9.6 Variations of the *Pinyin* ‘a’

<i>Pinyin</i>	IPA
a	/A/
ia	/iA/
ua	/uA/
ai	/ai/
uai	/wai/
ao	/au/
iao	/jau/
an	/ɛn/
ian	/jɛn/
uan	/wen/
üan	/ɥɛn/
ang	/aŋ/
iang	/jaŋ/
uang	/waŋ/

if the medial is a high front vowel, the variation of ‘a’ is back /ɑ/ when the following vowel is a back vowel /o/.

There are nine finals containing the letter ‘e’ in *Pinyin*. Meanwhile, two other finals ‘ui’ and ‘un’ are abbreviations of ‘uei’ and ‘uen’, which originally contained the letter ‘e’. Table 9.7 lists all of them. The first column lists all the finals that contain ‘e’ in *Pinyin* along with the abbreviated forms ‘ui’ and ‘un’ with the symbol of star ‘★’ added. The second column shows the narrow IPA transcriptions of the finals, showing the different real pronunciations of the letter ‘e’.

Totally, there are five variations of e. When the letter ‘e’ is used to represent a single-vowel final, its real pronunciation is /ɤ/. In several syllables in Chinese, the letter ‘ê’ is used to represent the single-vowel final /ɛ/. When the letter ‘e’ is combined with another letter ‘r’, *Pinyin* ‘er’ represents a single vowel, and its real pronunciation is /ɶ/. When ‘e’ is placed before a high front vowel /i/, the real pronunciation is /e/. When ‘e’ is placed after a high front vowel, e.g. ‘i’ and ‘ü’, and there is no ending in the same syllable, the real pronunciation of ‘e’ is /ɛ/. When ‘e’ is placed before the alveolar nasal n and the velar nasal ng (/ŋ/), the real pronunciation is /ə/.

Wang (2005: 8) used phonological representation, contexts, and rules to explain the variations of ‘e’. It is almost the same as Table 9.7 and the explanation above. The only difference is that he classified ‘er’ into the nasal final, in which the ending of a final is a consonant. Accordingly, his transcription of ‘er’ is /ər/ in IPA, while in Table 9.7, ‘er’ is transcribed to /ɶ/ in IPA, which is a single-vowel final.

There are six finals containing the letter ‘o’ in *Pinyin*. Meanwhile, the additional final ‘iu’ is the abbreviation of ‘iou’, which originally contained the letter ‘o’. Table 9.8 lists all of them. The first column lists all the finals that contain ‘o’ in *Pinyin* along with the abbreviated forms ‘iu’ with the symbol of star ‘★’ added. The second column shows the narrow IPA transcription for the finals, showing the different real pronunciations of the letter ‘o’.

Basically, there are three variations of ‘o’. When the letter ‘o’ is used to represent a single-vowel final, its real pronunciation is /o/. When ‘o’ is placed after a low back vowel /ɑ/, the real pronunciation is /u/. When ‘o’ is placed before a relatively high back vowel /u/, the real pronunciation is /ə/. Wang (2005: 9) analyzed ‘u’ phonologically, and concluded the same three variations in context.

Table 9.7 Variations of the *Pinyin* ‘e’

<i>Pinyin</i>	IPA
e	/ɤ/
er	/ɶ/
ê	/ɛ/
ie	/jɛ/
üe	/ɥɛ/
ei	/ei/
ui★	/wei/
en	/ən/
un★	/wən/
eng	/əŋ/
ueng	/wəŋ/

Table 9.8 Variations of the *Pinyin* 'o'

<i>Pinyin</i>	<i>IPA</i>
o	/o/
ao	/au/
iao	/jau/
ou	/əu/
iu*	/jəu/
ong	/uŋ/
iong	/ʉŋ/

As for the finals ong and iong, the real pronunciations are /uŋ/ and /yʉŋ/. When *Pinyin* was designed, experts chose 'o' over 'u' to avoid the orthographic similarity between 'u' and 'n' (Zhao 1985).

There are five finals containing 'i', except the finals that contain 'i' that are medials. They are i, ai, uai, ei, and u(e)i. The letter 'i' in the four multiple-vowel finals has the same pronunciation /i/.⁴ Only one single-vowel final contains the letter 'i'. However, there are three ways to pronounce the single-vowel final 'i' according to the initials that 'i' follows. When 'i' follows the initials 'z', 'c', and 's', the real pronunciation of 'i' is /ɿ/. When 'i' follows the initials 'zh', 'ch', 'sh', and 'r', the real pronunciation of 'i' is /ʅ/. When 'i' follows other initials, the real pronunciation of 'i' is /i/. The three real pronunciations of single-vowel final 'i' are different.

The letters 'a', 'e', 'o', and 'i' are tricky because they represent different vowels in *Pinyin*. Therefore, when Chinese language instructors teach *Pinyin*, it is better to teach some finals as a whole part, such as 'zhi', 'zi', etc. (also see Wang 2005). However, most syllables could be learned or pronounced through two parts, i.e. the initial and the final. Zhao (1985) reclassified the finals, and got six single vowels after the simplification. Based on the single vowels, Zhao believed that it would be easier for learners to combine an initial, a medial, a main vowel, and an ending together to comprise a syllable. Traditionally, Chinese has used *fanqie* to combine an initial and a final for a syllable.

Omission in *Pinyin*

Some finals in SC have pronunciations that do not match *Pinyin* letters because some letters are omitted.

First, the finals 'ui', 'iu', and 'un' all contain 'u'; however, these three finals are the simplified forms of 'uei', 'iou', and 'uen' that are mentioned above. The main vowels are omitted in these syllables. Some scholars believe that the main vowel /e/ or /o/ in these syllables is weakened in some conditions (Xu 1958).

Moreover, the combination of a bilabial consonant and 'o', including 'bo', 'po', and 'mo', omits a medial 'u'. In this case, the medial /u/ is regarded as a transit vowel between a bilabial consonant and the main vowel /o/ (Wang 2009). Another example of transit vowel that is omitted in syllables in *Pinyin* is /ə/ in 'in', 'ün', and 'ing'. The real pronunciations of these three finals are /jən/, /ʉən/, and /jəŋ/. Since /j/ and /ʉ/ are located at the front of the tongue, and are close to the alveolar nasal /n/, the transit /ə/ is not clearly produced in 'in' and 'ün'. However, the positions of the tongue of /j/ (front) and /ŋ/ (back) are far away from each other, so the transit /ə/ is clearly produced in 'ing' (Zhao 1985).

Which Letter Carries a Tone

In *Pinyin*, the final carries the tone. However, which letter in a final carries a tone? If it is a single-vowel final that is generally represented by a letter, the letter carries the tone. The only exception among the single-vowel final is 'er', as 'e' in 'er' carries a tone. If it is a multi-vowel final, the vowel that has the lowest tongue position carries a tone. Figure 9.2 shows the position of the tongue of vowels.

It is easy to judge the height of tongue position of a vowel, i.e. whether the tongue position of a vowel is high or low. It depends on the openness of a mouth: If the openness of the mouth is larger, the tongue position of the vowel is lower. The largest openness of a mouth is /a/, which has the lowest tongue position. This is also the reason why a doctor asks a patient to open the mouth to say 'a' in order to watch the oral cavity clearly when s/he checks the patient's throat. In *Pinyin*, if there is a final that contains 'a', the letter 'a' must carry the tone. The glides 'i', 'u', and 'ü' have the smallest openness of a mouths since they have the highest tongue position. Therefore, they generally do not carry tones in a multi-vowel final. However, two multi-vowel finals contain both 'i' and 'u'. They are 'iu' and 'ui'. As for 'iu', the second letter 'u' carries tone. Why? In *Pinyin*, 'iu' is the abbreviation of 'iou', and 'o' has the lowest tongue position among the three vowels. In the final 'iou', 'o', and 'u' are the letters for the final 'ou' while 'i' is a glide. Therefore, the vowel 'o' in the final 'ou' should carry the tone. However, 'o' is omitted in the abbreviation; therefore, the other letter 'u' in the final 'ou' carries the tone in the final 'i(o)u'. As for 'ui', the second letter 'i' carries tone. Why? In *Pinyin*, 'ui' is the abbreviation of 'uei', and 'e' has the lowest tongue position among the three vowels. In this final, 'e' and 'i' are two letters for the final 'ei' while 'u' is a glide. Therefore, the vowel 'e' in the final 'ei' should carry the tone. However, 'e' is omitted in the abbreviation; therefore, the other letter 'i' in the final 'ei' carries the tone in the final 'u(e)i'.

Special Vowels and Consonants

Some vowels and consonants in SC do not exist in English, so it is hard for American learners of Chinese to acquire them. I explain three kinds of segments in this section. They are ü (/y/), b or p (/p/ or /p'/), and z or c (/ts/ or /ts'/) in SC.

First, ü is a high, front, and rounded vowel. There is no equivalent sound in English, so learners do not know how to pronounce it. In classroom teaching, instructors just demonstrate it and then ask students to imitate. The vowel ü exists in French, so some instructors of French have tried to use technology to teach this special vowel to English learners of French. As mentioned in the section of introduction, linguistic knowledge of pronunciations could help learners grasp the vowel easily. According Figure 9.2, both i (/i/) and ü (/y/) are pronounced at the same

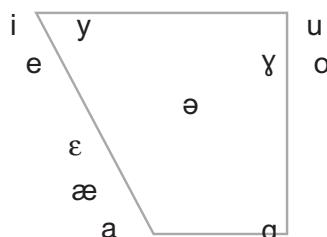


Figure 9.2 Position of the tongue

position of the tongue, i.e. front and high, yet the only difference between them is the feature of roundness. The vowel *i* (/i/) is unrounded, while *ü* (/y/) is a rounded vowel. Therefore, an instructor could tell students to pronounce ‘i’ first, and then ask them to keep the position of the tongue and change the shape of the lips to round; then students will hear the vowel ‘ü’.

The second kind of special sound is related to consonant features, including voiced vs. voiceless, and aspirated vs. unaspirated.

Table 9.9 lists three pairs of consonants in Chinese and English. All of them are stops. In Chinese, the distinctive feature of the stops is aspiration. However, the distinctive feature of stops in English is voice. Therefore, in Chinese, aspiration is used to distinguish the meanings of *bà* (father) vs. *pà* (afraid); *dàng* (swing) vs. *tàng* (hot); *gǒu* (dog) vs. *kǒu* (mouth). However, in English, the contrast between voiced and voiceless aspiration is used to distinguish the meanings of *bat* vs. *pat*, *down* vs. *town*, and *goat* vs. *coat*. When American learners of Chinese learn these three pairs, they just use voiceless unaspirated stops to substitute voiced stops, yet still use the voiceless aspirated stops. Therefore, this kind of substitution generally does not cause many problems, although phonetically the original consonants, such as /b/ and /d/, and the substitutions, such as /p/ and /t/, are different.

The last kind of special consonants are *z/c* (/ts/, /ts’/). Some instructors think these consonants do not exist in English, so they use two similar consonants /dg/ (the first consonant ‘j’ in the word ‘judge’) and /tʃ/ (the first consonant ‘ch’ in the word ‘cheese’). Actually, they do have equivalent consonants in English, so instructors could use their equivalents in English to teach this kind of special consonant. For example, ‘ts’ in ‘cats’ is pronounced /ts’/, and ‘ds’ in ‘beds’ is pronounced /dz/, which is the “voiced version” of /ts/. However, the consonant /ts’/ is hard for American learners of Chinese to pronounce. The reason is that /ts’/ in Chinese and in English are at two different levels. In Chinese, /ts’/ is an affricate initial locating at the beginning of a syllable, while /ts’/ in English is an affricate at the syllable boundary located at the morpheme boundary, i.e., /t’/ is the end of a morpheme, such as /t’/ in ‘cat’, and /s/ is used for morphological construction, such as ‘s’, a plural form, in ‘cats’. The affricate /ts’/ in English generally is short, and quickly and smoothly moves on to the next syllable. However, in Chinese, the initial /ts’/ must elicit a vowel, and cannot stop after its pronunciation. American learners of Chinese generally pronounce /ts’/ very short, so people cannot hear the aspiration part. Therefore, the initial /ts’/ can be easily to be heard as /ts/. When teaching, instructors can ask students to

Table 9.9 Voiced(less) and (un)aspirated consonants

	<i>Voiced</i>		<i>Voiceless unaspirated</i>		<i>Voiceless aspirated</i>	
	<i>IPA</i>	<i>Example</i>	<i>IPA</i>	<i>Example</i>	<i>IPA</i>	<i>Example</i>
Chinese			p	bà	p’	pà
English	b	bat			p’	pat
Chinese			t	dàng	t’	tàng
English	d	down			t’	town
Chinese			k	gǒu	k’	kǒu
English	g	goat			k’	coat

Note: Example words are written in *Pinyin* for Chinese

produce /ts'/ a little longer, so that the aspiration can be heard and the whole syllable can be pronounced smoothly. The affricate /ts'/ is the difficulty for English learners of Chinese. However, it might not be a difficulty for learners whose L1 is not English, such as Japanese.

Notes

- 1 /y/ is IPA transcription. It is 'ü' in *Pinyin*.
- 2 This also occurs for T2. During the field study, many researchers transcribed a low start point of a tone as 21 or 31 instead of 1 (the numbers are pitch values), since they feel that there is a short fall there (see Yang, 2003).
- 3 In 2008, Catherine, an L2 learner of Chinese and non-native Chinese instructor, who taught beginning conversation Chinese at the University of Iowa, talked about some sounds which are really 'tricky' according to the *Pinyin* spelling. These tricky sounds included 'e' and 'i' in *Pinyin*, during the Chinese TA workshop.
- 4 Zhao (1985:72) transcribed 'i' in 'ai' into /e/, i.e. the IPA transcription of 'ai' is 'ae'.

References

English References

- Baills, F., Suárez-González, N., González-Fuente, S. and Prieto, P. (2018) 'Observing and producing pitch gestures facilitates the learning of of Mandarin Chinese tones and words'. *Studies in Second Language Acquisition* 1–26.
- Bi, N. (2010) *Teaching Demonstrations for Beginning Chinese*. Beijing: Foreign Language Teaching and Research Press.
- Chen, P. (1999) *Modern Chinese: History and Sociolinguistics*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Derwing, T. M. and Munro, M. J. (2005) 'Second language accent and pronunciation teaching: A research-based approach'. *TESOL Quarterly* 39: 379–397.
- Godfroid, A., Lin, C. and Ryu, C. (2017) 'Hearing and seeing tone through color: An efficacy study of web-based, multimodal Chinese tone perception training'. *Language Learning* 67: 819–857.
- Goldsmith, J. (1976) *Autosegmental Phonology*. PhD dissertation. MIT.
- Hao, Y. (2012) 'Second language acquisition of Mandarin Chinese tones by tonal and non-tonal language speakers'. *Journal of Phonetics* 40(2): 269–279.
- Levis, J. (2005) 'Changing contexts and shifting paradigms in pronunciation teaching'. *TESOL Quarterly* 39: 369–378.
- Norris, J. and Ortega, L. (2010) 'Effectiveness of L2 Instruction: A research synthesis and quantitative meta-analysis'. *Language Learning* 50(3): 417–528.
- Shen, X.-N. S. (1991) 'A prosodic explanation of the 3rd tone sandhi in Mandarin'. *Acta Linguistica Hafniensia* 23: 113–128.
- Shen, X.-N. S. and Lin, M. (1991) 'A perceptual study of Mandarin tones 2 and 3'. *Language and Speech* 34: 145–156.
- Sun, S. H. (1997) *The Development of a Lexical Tone Phonology in American Adult Learners of Standard Mandarin Chinese*. Honolulu: University of Hawai'i Press.
- White, L. (2003) 'On the nature of Interlanguage representation: Universal Grammar in the second language'. In C. J. Doughty and M. H. Long (eds.), *The Handbook of Second Language Acquisition*, 19–42. Malden, MA: Blackwell Publishing Ltd.
- Yang, B. (2011) 'Perceptual categories of Mandarin tones'. In *Proceeding of Psycholinguistic Representation of Tone Conference 2011*, 54–57. Hong Kong.
- Yang, B. (2012) 'The gap between the perception and production of tones by American Learners of Mandarin: An intralingual perspective'. *Chinese as a Second Language Research* 1(1): 31–52.
- Yang, B. (2015) *Perception and Production of Mandarin Tones by Native Speakers and L2 Learners*. Heidelberg: Springer.

- Yang, B. and Yang, N. (2019) 'Development of disyllabic tones in different learning contexts'. *International Review of Applied Linguistics in Language Teaching*. 57(2): 205–233.
- Yang, C. (2016) *The Acquisition of Mandarin Prosody*. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Zhang, H. (2016) 'Dissimilation in the Second Language Acquisition of Mandarin Chinese Tones'. *Second Language Research* 32(3): 427–451.
- Zhang, H. (2018) *Second Language Acquisition of Mandarin Chinese Tones: Beyond First-Language Transfer*. Leiden: Brill.

Chinese References

- Wang, Lijia 王理嘉 (2005) '《汉语拼音方案》与世界汉语语音教学' (*Hangyu Pinyin Fang'an* and Pronunciation pedagogy in teaching Chinese as a foreign language). *世界汉语教学* (Chinese Teaching in the World) 2: 5–11.
- Wang, Lijia 王理嘉 (2009) '汉语拼音60年的见证与前瞻' (*Hanyu Pinyin: 60 years in the past and its future*). *语言文字应用* (Applied Linguistics) 4: 36–45.
- Xu, Shirong 徐世荣 (1958) 普通话语音讲话 (Talking about Phonetics of Putonghua). 北京: 文字改革出版社 (Beijing: Reform of Writing System Publisher).
- Yang, Bei 杨蓓 (2003) '衢州方言声调实验研究及其与传统研究的比较' (Experimental studies on tones in Quzhou dialect and the comparison with traditional studies). *语言研究* (Studies in Language and Linguistics) 23(1): 70–77.
- Zhao, Jinming 赵金铭 (1985) '简化对外汉语语音系教学的可能与依据' (Possibility and evidence to teach Chinese phonology to foreigners regarding simplification). *语言教学与研究* (Language Teaching and Study) 3: 62–75.
- Zhu, Xiaonong 朱晓农 (2012) '声调的种类' (The categories of Chinese tones). *语言研究* (Language Studies) 32(2): 1–16.

Teaching Chinese Tones

Hang Zhang

Introduction

This chapter discusses teaching Chinese lexical tones, a prominent linguistic feature of the Chinese sound system, to adult learners. The chapter includes three sections. The first briefly introduces the linguistic properties of Chinese lexical tones. Focusing on the most difficult Tone 3, the second section reviews research findings on second language (L2) acquisition of Chinese tones in order to shed light on tone teaching. In order to facilitate effective tone teaching and learning, the third section offers pedagogical suggestions and three sets of sample tone training materials for instructors to help learners establish phonological representations of Chinese lexical tones and develop motor skills for tone implementation.

Linguistic Properties of Chinese Lexical Tones

While in all languages vowel and consonant articulations are central to conveying the meaning of words, pitch changes serve a contrastive function and signal the semantics of the syllables in Chinese. There are four phonological tone categories in *Putonghua* (Chinese, hereafter), i.e. Tone 1 (T1, high level), Tone 2 (T2, mid rising), Tone 3 (T3, low level or dipping), and Tone 4 (T4, high falling), which serve to distinguish word meanings. Lexical tones in Chinese are known for their gliding pitch contours, which are physically quantified by fundamental frequency (F0) values, with register and contour as the primary acoustic parameters. *Register* refers to a tone's pitch height (high, low), and *contour* refers to its movement (rising, falling, dipping, etc.). Properties such as duration, turning point, intensity, and amplitude are also phonetic correlates of tones.

Among the four tones, T3 displays the most variation, having three allophones in connected speech. That is, T3 is pronounced in three different ways depending on surrounding tones, but speakers mentally categorize them as belonging to a single phoneme, 'T3'. This chapter refers to the three variant pronunciations as Full-T3, Half-T3, and Sandhi-T3 as shown in Table 10.1.

Whether the low-dipping T3 (Full-T3, [214]) or the short, low-level T3 (Half-T3, [21]) is the underlying form of T3 (or the base form) has been debated in the field of theoretical Chinese linguistics as well as in the field of L2 Chinese pedagogy (Duanmu 2000; Chen, S. 1973; Yip 2002; Zhang, H. 2014, 2016b). Although seldom produced in connected speech, the

Table 10.1 The three variant forms of Tone 3

Variant	Pitch Value	Tone contour	Environment of occurrence
Full-T3	[214]	Low dipping	In isolation or utterance-final position
Sandhi-T3	[35]	High rising	Preceding T3
Half-T3	[21]	Low falling/level	Preceding T1, T2, T4, and neutral tone, ¹ in isolation and utterance-final positions

¹ Whether T3 surfaces as [21] or [35] before a neutral tone depends on the syntactic structure of the utterance. See Cheng (1973) for details.

low-dipping tone (Full-T3, [214]), is traditionally assumed to be the base form of T3. As a result, two sandhi rules have been posited to derive the full range of surface pronunciations of T3:

1. **Pre-T3 sandhi rule:** T3 becomes a rising tone when it is followed by another T3.
2. **Half-T3 sandhi rule:** the rising part of the low-dipping T3 is left off (i.e. Full-T3 becomes Half-T3) when it is followed by other tones.

While the categorical tone changes of T3 (i.e. T3 Sandhi) are required to apply to all Chinese words, several other tone sandhi processes, such as ‘Yi-Bu-Qi-Ba’ (一, 不, 七, 八) sandhi process, the T2 change in trisyllabic phrases, and the tone changes in reduplicated adjective words, are restricted to particular words or the application is optional in spoken Chinese (see more information in Cheng 1973; Yang, B. 2015, and Zhang, H. 2018b). For example, the T4 sandhi processes only occur on two words *yī* ‘一’ and *bù* ‘不’. The word *yī* ‘one’ bears a tone of T1 but can be produced with T4 (when it represents the cardinal number ‘one’), *yì*, when followed by T1, T2, or T3. *Yī* ‘one’ and *bù* ‘not’ should be produced with a rising tone, with a pitch contour identical to that of T2, when they are followed by any syllable bearing T4.

In addition to the four lexical tones discussed above, there is another tone category, the so-called neutral tone, or *qing-sheng* 轻声 (light sound). This small subset of syllables consists mainly of affixes as well as non-initial syllables of some disyllabic words that are substantially shorter in duration compared to syllables bearing other tones. In some cases, these syllables do not have their own tones. For example, the suffix—*de* 的 and the interrogative sentence-final particle—*ma* 吗 have no basic pitch values of their own in any context. However, in some cases, the sounds are derived from syllables bearing four tones, but are phonetically realized as neutral tones. For example, second syllables with neutral tones in the reduplicated forms such as *mā-ma* ‘mother’ and other words such as *piào-liang* ‘beautiful’ are derived from the T1 syllable *mā* and T4 syllable *liàng*.

Phonetically, Chinese tones occur within a contrastive system and are modified to varying degrees by the linguistic contexts in which they occur. Phonologically, the grammar of Chinese tone is a dynamic and comprehensive system that requires speakers to form a mental faculty that attends to and processes its meaningful distinctions. Therefore, the acquisition of the Chinese tonal system requires not only mimicking of acoustic-phonetic features of Chinese tones, but also acquiring the phonology of Chinese sounds. In other words, the learners should form a contrastive tonal system as their mental representation of Chinese sounds, appropriately connected to word meanings. While Mandarin Chinese tones are acquired very early by Chinese-speaking children, long before the inventory of segmental sounds (vowels and consonants) is mastered (Chao 1951; Li and Thompson 1977; Zhu and Dodd 2000), tones are extremely challenging for adult learners of Chinese according to numerous research studies on second language (L2) acquisition of Chinese tones (Lado 1968; Sun 1998; Yang, B. 2015; Yang, C-S. 2016).

The L2 Acquisition of Chinese Tone System

Errors in tone productions made by L2 learners of Chinese are notorious for being inconsistent in the linguistic literature, which has been a recurrent theme in the past several decades. The majority of previous studies have looked at interlanguage production patterns by contrasting native or first language (L1) and L2 differences, as has been the traditional practice. Most of the studies of Chinese tone acquisition are concerned with the tone perception and non-native tonal production of English-speaking learners. These studies usually attribute the source of errors to: 1) the interference from learners' native language prosodic structures (White 1981; Lin 1985; Broselow et al. 1987; Chen, Q-H. 2000; Sun 1998; among others) and 2) the complex prosodic structure of the target language, the tone and intonation interaction in Chinese, and the different pitch ranges of Chinese from other languages, etc. (Chen, G-T. 1974; Miracle 1989; Shen 1989; Yang, C-S. 2016; Yip 1980; etc.). Some recent research on tone errors has shifted its focus from L1 transfer to other error sources, such as phonological universals and pedagogical practice. Some L2 error patterns cannot be attributed to target language input alone, nor derived from the grammar of the learner's native language. Such error patterns often reveal universally preferred structures (Broselow, Chen and Wang 1998; Major 2001; Zhang, H. 2010, 2013, etc.), which indicates that L2 learners construct mental grammars that are constrained by general and independently motivated principles. Furthermore, some specific errors, such as those that occur in production of Tone 3, are argued to be partially caused by the most common teaching method.

This section reviews a few research findings of L2 acquisition of Chinese tones, especially those most difficult cases of tone acquisition, in order to shed some light on the teaching of Chinese tones. Due to the limited space, this section only touches upon topics of 'acquisition order of tones' and the 'T3 acquisition' (for further details, see Ke 2012; Yang, B. 2015; Zhang, H. 2018a).

Acquisition Order and Positional Effects

Although there is variation in findings of previous studies (see reviews in Sun 1998; Zhang, H. 2013), the majority of previous studies report that L2 learners acquire the high-level tone (T1) and the falling tone (T4) tone earlier than the rising (T2) and the low (T3) tone. The findings on L2 acquisition of the order of individual tones are generally consistent with findings in L1 acquisition studies, where Chinese-speaking children also acquire T1, T4 earlier than T2 and T3 (Li and Thompson 1977; Zhu and Dodd 2000). In addition, identical tone combinations (such as T2-T2, T4-T4) generally pose more difficulties than some non-identical tone sequences (e.g. T2-T3, T2-T4) to L2 learners (Zhang 2016a). The tone sequence T1-T1 is acquired significantly earlier than T4-T4, and T4-T4 is in turn acquired earlier than T2-T2. Some researchers have also examined the difficulty scale of other bi-tonal sequences. Several studies find that a T1-T4 sequence is the most often produced bi-tonal sequence by English-speaking learners (Yang, C-S. 2016; Zhang, H. 2010). Some bi-tonal sequences (e.g. T1-T3, T2-T3 and T4-T3) show very high accuracy rates, indicating early acquisition of these tone sequences, while others (e.g. T2-T1 and T2-T2) have high error rates. The difficulty hierarchy of bi-tonal sequences also involves the positional effects on the tone realization.

Previous studies on L2 Chinese tones have found evidence that suggests position within a polysyllabic word affects the perception and production of tones (Miracle 1989; Broselow, Hurlig and Ringen 1987; Sun 1998; Zhang, H. 2015; Yang, B. 2015). Zhang, H. (2015) proposes two types of positional effects of L2 tones: one is 'absolute' positional effects and the other is 'relative'

or ‘inter-tonal’ effects. *Absolute positional effects* refer to how position in an utterance (such as in the word- or sentence- initial, medial or final syllable) influences the performance in production of the tone. For example, Sun (1998) found that learners perceive and produce the tones of monosyllabic words and those appearing in final syllable positions in polysyllabic words with greater accuracy compared to tones in non-final syllable positions. This observation is especially true for T1 and T4. *Relative or inter-tonal effects* refer to the tones effect on one another in connected speech. Yang, B. (2015) systematically surveyed both heritage learners’ and non-heritage learners’ perception and production of Chinese tones in the middle of tone strings. The test tone (T) was embedded in four contexts: either preceding a high (H) or low (L) tone, and either following a high (H) or low (L) tone (LTH, HTH, HTL, and LTL). Yang found that L2 learners experience the most difficulty in perceiving tones embedded between two low tones, LTL. In a production test, flat contexts (LTL, HTH) facilitate tone production more than the contoured contexts (LTH and HTL). Learners experience the greatest difficulty with producing tones in the HTL context, even though this context mimics English’s declination intonation. Zhang, H. (2018b) investigated the implementation of contour tones (T2, T4) within disyllabic words in a cross-linguistic study. It was found that adult learners’ T2 and, to some extent, their T4 tended to be less intelligible to native listeners when followed by tones starting with a high onset (Tone 1 or Tone 4) as compared to those followed by tones starting with a low onset (Tone 2 or Tone 3). The study argues that this type of error is caused by anticipatory dissimilation, a tonal coarticulation effect, and presents evidence from speakers’ (1) accuracy rates, (2) pitch values, and (3) error types. The findings suggest that, in addition to interference from adult learners’ first language and the prosodic structures found in the target language, some ‘universal’ articulatory constraints may also cause L2 tonal errors. Additionally, it was found that anticipatory coarticulation in L2 tones exerts a greater effect on Tone 2 than it does on Tone 4.

The Acquisition of Tone 3

The third tone (T3) is consistently regarded as the most problematic in both perception and production tasks. Many studies have shown that L2 learners acquire T3 very late with significantly higher error rates than other tones (Ke 2012; Sun 1998; Wen and Yan 2015; Zhang, H. 2014, 2016b). It has been claimed that several factors contribute to the difficulty of acquiring T3: the acoustic similarities between T3 and T2, its multiple variations or allophone forms, and the complicated sandhi processes associated with T3. As mentioned in the first section of this chapter, T3 is pronounced in three different ways (allophones) depending on its surrounding tones. While T3 can be produced as a low-dipping tone [214] (‘Full-T3’) at utterance-final positions or in isolation and produced as a high rising [35] (‘Sandhi-T3’) when followed by another T3 due to the T3 sandhi rule, T3 by default surfaces as ‘Half-T3’, a low-level tone [21] in all other cases. That is, Half-T3 covers the widest distribution of T3, and, importantly, it often occurs in isolation or utterance-final positions in Chinese native speakers’ utterances (Duanmu 2000; Zhang, H. 2018b). In a survey of the distribution of Full-T3 in native Chinese, Shi and Li (1997) find that only 15 percent of T3s in utterance-final positions are low-dipping tones (Full-T3) in recordings of CCTV news programs.

The traditional assumption that [214] is the base form of T3 carries over into L2 pedagogy in various forms by designating the tone mark for T3: the falling-rising shape of the T3 phonetic transcription in the most prevalent *pinyin* system. All three variants of T3 share the same tone mark. Additionally, [214] (‘Full-T3’) is usually taught to L2 learners first, therefore taking primary status in the learners’ tonal grammars, while [21] (‘Half-T3’) is only briefly introduced by most teachers. The ‘Half-T3 sandhi’ rule is usually ignored in teaching. Under the traditional

linguistic assumption of T3 base form and the corresponding ‘Full-T3 first’ teaching method, multiple studies have observed similar error patterns (see Zhang 2018a for details). Chen, S. (1973) describes the T3 teaching problem: ‘[T]he low dip full third tone has been treated as the norm from which the low-level variant is derived allophonically. Sometimes the low level variant is not even introduced . . . As a result, a frequently found mistake is that students use the low dip full third tone in all environments (p. 146)’. The ‘over-production of Full-T3’ phenomenon mentioned in Chen, S. (1973) is supported with quantitative studies such as Wen and Yan (2015) and Zhang, H. (2014, 2016b).

The research findings show that the ‘Full-T3 First’ method may be problematic. Researchers have thus called for revisiting the alternative ‘Half-T3 First’ teaching method. The ‘Half-T3 First’ teaching method introduces Half-T3 to L2 learners first as the base form. Learners then subsequently study the Raised-T3 form derived from Pre-T3 Sandhi. Although less mainstream, the ‘Half-T3 First’ teaching method has been mentioned in various studies, especially in the late 1980s (Tsung 1987; Zhao 1988; Wang, Y-J. 1995; among others). In recent studies, Zhang, H. (2014, 2016b) argue that in addition to facilitating the establishment of Half-T3 as the base tone of T3 in the developing L2 tone phonology, there are two other benefits in adopting this method. First, it avoids the confusion between T2 and Full-T3 at the beginning stage of learning Chinese. Second, this method simplifies the sandhi process. While both Pre-T3 Sandhi and Half-T3 Sandhi are required under the assumption that [214] is the basic form, only the Pre-T3 Sandhi rule would be required by adopting [21] as the basic form since Half-T3 also occurs in isolation or utterance-final positions. The Half-T3 method substantially simplifies the sandhi processes, thereby lessening the computational burden on learners. Further empirical studies comparing the ‘Full-T3 First’ and ‘Half-T3 First’ teaching methods are necessary to determine the relative effectiveness of these two methods.

Teaching Chinese Tones

Teaching Materials of Tones

In a research monograph, Zhang, H. (2018b) reviewed the tone teaching materials (for beginning stage) in 20 popular Chinese language textbooks or Chinese sound training books in order to outline mainstream pedagogical treatment of tones in classrooms. These materials include (1) Chinese language textbooks published in the United States; (2) Chinese Textbooks published in Asia and (3) monographs on Chinese sound training. By reviewing three components of these tone training materials: (1) introduction to the inventory of Chinese tones, including background knowledge of sandhi rules, (2) suggestions for methods of tone study, and (3) exercises aimed at tone training, Zhang, H. (2018b) reported two findings. The first finding is that the descriptions of tone features are not consistent across these books, especially with regard to T3 (see further information in Zhang, H. 2018b). The second is the presence of the three listed components in some of the older books such as Chao (1948, 1967) and Hockett (1951), in contrast with the more recently published (after 1990) textbooks and monographs. The majority of recently published textbooks only briefly introduce the Chinese tone inventory, provide a minimum number of exercises and give nearly no guidance on methods of study. However, older books not only offer a thorough explanation of the Chinese tone inventory and meticulously designed exercises for both general and specific tone training, but also include very detailed instructions on methods of study. In the forthcoming sections, I will cite some examples from Chao (1948, 1967) and Hockett (1951) and discuss tone pedagogy in more depth.

Pedagogical Suggestions to Chinese Tone Teaching

Generally speaking, it is not difficult for L2 learners of Chinese to differentiate Chinese tones in a contrastive environment and imitate tones and intonation during instruction. However learners, especially beginning learners, usually lack the stable mental (phonological) representations of the tone system as well as the motor skills which allow them to accurately re-generate the same sound patterns in later productions. Therefore, it is extremely important for learners to (1) establish the phonological representation of each tone in its relation to other tones, and (2) develop motor skills effectively. Since learners may use different textbooks, some generic strategies for handling these two tasks are discussed below.

The Establishment of Mental Representation of Tones

A general suggestion for quickly establishing the tone representations (and the other sound components) is to study tones on new words, phrases, and sentences through *listening and speaking*, like in L1 acquisition. As is the common practice in many curricula and classes, students usually study and memorize new vocabulary by *reading* vocabulary lists (including *pinyin*), and possibly practice *writing* out new vocabulary in both *pinyin* and Chinese characters in preparation for quizzes. This practice relies heavily on the *pinyin* system for sound learning. Many learners mistakenly assume that *pinyin*, the Romanization system or the sound annotation system, is a direct representation of the Chinese sounds. It is important to recognize that establishing a stable phonological representation of sounds does NOT require learners to memorize *pinyin* spellings and tone markings. Instead, learning new words and phrases by listening to and imitating the sounds produced by native speakers is more effective than focusing all one's attention on *pinyin*.¹ This method will help learners establish the mental representations of Chinese consonants, vowels, and tones as a whole.

For the most difficult case of T3, as discussed in previous section, the question remains of whether teaching Full-T3 first or Half-T3 first would most benefit L2 learners. However, supporters of both of these accounts agree that a major problem of T3 acquisition is the poor performance of Half-T3. Considering the whole contrastive system of Chinese tones instead of merely teaching the variations of T3, teachers of Chinese are strongly encouraged to direct students to pay more attention to the register feature of T3 (low pitch range) rather than contour feature (dipping shape). In the phonological representation of Chinese lexical tones, register is assumed to dominate contour features, implying that register is the key cue for T3 tone perception and production. Asking learners to make T3 as a low tone, rather than distracting learners with the falling-rising contour, will help learners enlarge the perceptual and productive space between T3 and other tones. This will make the tones more contrastive and improve the performance of T3, especially in connected speech. The four lexical tones presented to learners for the first time, thus, may only include T1 (High Level), T2 (Mid Rising), T3 (Low Level), and T4 (High Falling). The distributions of the pitch contours of these four basic tones are neat: a pair of level tones with one at the top and the other at the bottom, and a pair of contour tones with one rising and the other falling.

For the difficult case of T2, it is important to pronounce the full pitch contours of T2, especially the offset of the tone. It is because that, generally speaking, the syllable rhyme is more important for the realization of tone contrasts than the syllable onset is. In Chinese, the rhyme is made up of only sonorants and is therefore the location within the syllable where pitch is better discriminated. A better realization of tone targets of T2 offset will increase the perceptual recoverability of tones (Zhang, J. 2004; Flemming 2012; Zhang, H. 2018b).

While intensive practice is needed for the difficult sandhi rules, teachers are advised to keep the explicit explanation of these rules to a minimum in classroom instruction. That is, only those ‘required’ sandhi processes: the Pre-T3 sandhi and the ‘*yi*’ ‘*bu*’ sandhi rules of T4 are introduced. All three sandhi processes can be considered as ‘dissimilation’ cases, which are motivated by a single phonological constraint, the Obligatory Contour Principle (OCP) (Leben 1973) (see more research on the effects of OCP in L2 tones in Zhang, H. 2016a). OCP states that adjacent identical auto-segments are disfavored across languages. Although it is not necessary to introduce the linguistic knowledge to Chinese language learners, teachers can simply explain to students that when T3 and the two words of T4 (*yi*, *bu*) are followed by another T3 or T4 (forming two identical tone sequences), the word-initial T3 or *yi/bu* should be changed into a rising tone for easier tone articulation.

Another reason for establishing tone representations is from the perspective of intonation. Chinese is well known for its lexical tone system. However, intonation is also an integral part of Chinese phonology. Teachers should provide instruction and exercises to help students understand how to produce correct tones when ‘intonational’ events also occur. These cases may include those ‘prominent’ syllables under narrow focus and interrogative sentences where negative L1 transfer may easily occur. In Chinese, a more prominent syllable is usually louder, longer in duration, and importantly, has a widened pitch range (i.e. the highs are higher and the lows are lower). However, this widened pitch range does not change the essential contour direction of each tone.

Development of Motor Skills

Learning tones not only requires one to quickly establish correct mental representations of tones, but also frequent and intensive motor skill trainings, in order to produce the skills known as having ‘active knowledge’ (Chao 1967) of the Chinese language. While tone training is a long-term process, I believe the initial several weeks of Chinese language learning is the critical period for tone training since adult production and perceptual system demonstrates some degrees of plasticity (Wang et al. 1999, 2003). This section provides three general suggestions for motor skill trainings and a few sample training materials as well as notes to teachers.

General Suggestions in Motor Skill Training

1. The Significance of Laying the Foundations of Phonetic Work

Tones are a critical integral part of the Chinese sound system and it is important for students to understand that a solid phonetic foundation gives the learner opportunities in the future to apply, synthesize, and develop genuine competencies in comprehending and producing the target language. Students should understand that tones are always part of a word. As Chao (1967) indicated, a word with different tones are as different for Chinese speakers as *bad* and *bed* for English speakers. Therefore it is important that ‘absolute necessity of learning the tone as a part of the word and not as an afterthought’ (Chao 1967: 24) be reflected in pedagogical practice. Because the essential nature of this foundational phonetic work has a pervasive effect on subsequent learning, it is necessary for students to understand the importance of devoting full attention to phonetic foundation and form good study habits at the beginning stage. For example, Chao (1967: 73, 84) tells students that it is fully worthwhile to devote a great amount of hours

of study to foundational phonetic work; the consequent ease and precision with which students grasp the formation of new words will fully justify the cost in time.

2. Suggestions of Procedures for Practicing Sounds

Memorization and recitation is necessary for the first several weeks, even several months, of tone learning. Learners should repeatedly practice listening and producing tones both inside and outside of the classroom, since ‘good pronunciation of a language is a matter of motor skills, coupled with ear training’ (Hockett 1951: xi). For this, teachers should provide concrete instructions. For example, first, students should commit sufficient time for perception training at the beginning. Recent studies on Chinese tone training show that perceptual training has a clear, facilitative effect on both the perception and production of tones (Leather 1990; Wang et al. 1999; Wang, Jongman and Sereno 2003). Second, tones should be practiced within tone strings rather than in isolation. This is especially important for the most widely distributed allophone of T3, Half-T3. Producing the tones in context is also an effective way to acquire the Chinese intonation system. It is because unstressed forms of function words (such as classifiers, prepositions, etc.) and other syllables play an important role in speech rhythm (see Triskova 2016 for more information). Practicing tones in strings which contain both full tones and unstressed syllables will help improve L2 learners’ naturalness of spoken Chinese.

These ideas, especially the first suggestion, are well reflected in some sound training programs, such as ‘Echo Method’. An early version of Echo Method is proposed in Chao (1967). Contreras (2013) has argued for this method which fits nicely with current models of working memory in psychology and has developed in different contexts to meet various language training needs. Chung (2013) use a similar method to train English-language learners in Taiwan. In her Chinese textbook *Ni Wo Ta*, Zhang, P. (2015: 6) offers four steps to internalize Chinese sounds:

- Step 1: View and Listen: While looking at the pictures or videos, listen to the sounds and words in each group you hear and concentrate on comprehension. Do not repeat yet!
- Step 2: Listen and Listen: Close your eyes and ‘feel’ the sounds and tones. Try to hear the differences as well as the similarities between Chinese and your native language. Just listen!
- Step 3: Listen and Repeat: With your eyes still closed and your mind relaxed, listen to each sound three times, and then imitate it 2–3 times.
- Step 4: Repeat and Write: After repeating the sound, look at the screen to see the pinyin spelling of the sound or word, then write it down in the blank space under each word or on a piece of paper as you say the word 2–3 times.

There are also various tone training methods in the literature (see Zhao and Cheng 1997; Chan 1995; So 2006; Chen and Massaro 2008; Yang, C-S. 2016; Holgate 2013). I recommend the ‘Phonetic Foundation’ section of Chao (1967) for instructions on the procedures for practicing sounds in classrooms, such as approximate amount of time to spend on each training exercises, sequences of training items, and frequencies of training, etc.

3. Assessment

Clarifying learning objectives and evaluation criteria for each stage can motivate students to reach a specific goal in sound learning. Both perception and the production of lexical tones should be checked regularly. Assessment questions should be designed to test whether students

successfully ‘fasten’ the correct tones to the words, phrases, and sentences. Assessments can be done in classrooms, but students’ commitment and a great deal of practice outside of classrooms are required. Therefore, assessing tone productions, by both reading aloud and reciting sentences or paragraphs from memory, is strongly recommended, especially at the beginning stage. In his book on Chinese sound training, Hockett (1951: xiv) suggests that learners should be exposed to monologues or dialogues prepared by native speakers, which the learner can then memorize and produce from memory to be checked in assessment activities, similar to the way a violinist rehearses and performs a piece of music.

Sample Tone Training Materials

The last section of this chapter provides three sets of sample tone-training exercises, including a note for teachers, to give examples of tone training procedures to inspire other effective methods in developing motor skills. Due to space limitations, each exercise only contains a small number of samples. Each exercise focuses on addressing one issue or difficulty in tone acquisition (see more information in Zhang, H. 2018b). The sample items can be expanded or revised for speaking or listening tasks, or customized for specific class needs at different stages. For speaking exercises, learners are encouraged to hum the tone sequences before putting the segments (consonants and vowels) and tones together.

1. Expand Pitch Ranges

This exercise is mainly used to expand students’ pitch range, especially those who do not have a tonal language background. T1 and T3 is a pair of level tones with one at the ‘ceiling’ and the other at the ‘floor’ of one’s pitch range (Tsung 1987). When trying to expand a learners’ pitch range, it is ‘better to err in pitching tones too low than too high’ (Chao 1967: 85). When demonstrating tones to students at the beginning stage, it is better if teachers do not use low-dipping T3 to avoid confusion.

- Hum T1 and T3 in alternation at slow, normal, and high speed.
 1. T1-T3 / T1-T3 / T1-T3 / 2. T3-T1 / T3-T1 / T3-T1 /
- Hum T2 and T4 in alternation at slow, normal, and high speed.
 3. T2-T4 / T2-T4 / T2-T4 / 4. T4-T2 / T4-T2 / T4-T2 / T4-T2
- Insert vowels or meaningful segments into the tone patterns above. For example:
 5. tīng-xiě/tīng-xiě/tīng-xiě/lǎo-shī/lǎo-shī/lǎo-shī /
 6. bú-shì/bú-shì/bú-shì/bù-xíng/ bù-xíng/bù-xíng /

2. Experiencing All Four Mandarin Tones and Quickly Switching Pitch Targets

After introducing the Chinese lexical tone inventories, rather than reciting the four tones in the same order, try to vary the order when practicing at the initial stage. Items may be organized into a matrix so that students can be called upon to listen/produce any item randomly assigned by the teacher. The student’s ability to immediately speak and discriminate tones by listening to them in any order can help establish and consolidate the mental representation

of individual tones. The training can be conducted in three steps: (1) Hum the tones line by line, in a column, or diagonally; (2) Listen and distinguish the tones line by line, in a column, or diagonally; (3) Listen/speak and distinguish the real words line by line, in a column, or diagonally.

Sample Matrix:

1. yī yí yǐ yì
2. dǎ dā dá dà
3. fù fū fǔ fǔ
4. gè gé gě gē

Various studies have found that many L2 tone errors result from learners' failure to quickly switch between pitch targets, especially when handling contour tones in connected speech (Yang, C-S. 2016; Xu 2001). T2-T2 and T4-T4 tone sequences in disyllabic words are especially difficult to acquire (Zhang, H. 2016a). In addition, T2 at utterance-final positions and T4 at utterance-initial positions are also very difficult for learners (Broselow, Hurtig and Ringen 1987; Zhang, H. 2015). Particular attention should be paid into these difficult tones at specific positions.

- Hum T2 in succession
 1. T2-T2 / T2-T2-T2 / T2-T2-T2-T2 / T2-T2-T2-T2-T2
- Hum T4 in succession
 2. T4-T4 / T4-T4-T4 / T4-T4-T4-T4 / T4-T4-T4-T4-T4
- Listen or speak the above tone sequences with real words. For example:
 3. lán-qiú/wán lán-qiú/lái wán lán-qiú/néng lái wán lán-qiú
 4. diàn-shì/kàn diàn-shì/yào kàn diàn-shì/jiù yào kàn diàn-shì

3. T3 Sandhi and T4 Sandhi

Producing two T3 syllables in succession is difficult. When a T3 is followed by another T3, the first T3 is produced as a rising tone, which makes the articulation of this sequence easier. Students should be instructed that this is the only way native speakers produce two T3 syllables in a row, even though the tone marking on the first T3 does not change. This process is called 'T3 Sandhi'. The T3 Sandhi process should be practiced on bi-tonal sequences until students become very comfortable with this motor skill, and before they are asked to practice T3 Sandhi processes in longer tone sequences. Please note the following exercises should be used in different stages and may span several semesters.

- Hum and read aloud Half-T3 and Raised-T3 in common words, for example:
 1. lǎo-shī 'teacher' lǎo-tóu 'old man' lǎo-bǎn 'boss' lǎo-shì 'always'
 2. kě-xīn 'satisfying' kě-néng 'possible' kě-yǐ 'may' kě-shì 'but'

To help students internalize the T3 sandhi rules, especially when the sandhi rule occurs across word boundaries, it is better to prepare a series of words in the same word class and ask students to combine different classes of words into phrases. For example, one may write the 'B' group

of words on the board, then choose any words from a stack of flashcards from the ‘A’ group, asking students to combine the two. Tools such as flashcards and pictures are encouraged in this exercise.

A group

5. a. xiǎo ‘little’/lǎo ‘old’
6. a. xiǎo ‘little’/lǎo ‘old’
7. a. wǒ ‘I’/nǐ ‘you’
8. a. wǔ ‘five’/měi ‘every’

B group

- b. (surname) Zhāng/Wáng/Lǐ/Dèng
- b. (animal) yā ‘duck’/niú ‘cow’/gǒu ‘dog’/xiàng ‘elephant’
- b. (verb) chī ‘eat’/wán ‘play’/xiě ‘write’/yòng ‘use’
- b. (time) tiān ‘day’/nián ‘year’/miǎo ‘second’/yuè ‘month’

When students are able to apply T3 Sandhi without hesitation and correctly produce sequences such as ‘(Half-T3) xiǎo-yā/(Half-T3) xiǎo-niú/(Raised-T3) xiǎo-gǒu/(Half-T3) xiǎo-xiàng’, they can then move on to trisyllabic phrases. In Chinese, there are a considerable number of monosyllabic words, which form trisyllabic prosodic units when combined with disyllabic words, which are the most common type of word in Chinese. For example, in item (9) below, the morpheme *nǚ* ‘female’ is not a part of the lexical word *lǎo-shī* ‘teacher’ or *xué-sheng* ‘students’, but is loosely connected to the lexical word, thus forming a trisyllabic prosodic unit. The initial syllables with T3 tone in column ‘a’, such as the morpheme *nǚ* in the phrase *nǚ lǎo-shī*, should surface as a Raised-T3 as a result of the Pre-T3 Sandhi rule. However, the *nǚ* in the ‘b’ phrase *nǚ xué-sheng* should be produced as Half-T3 as a result of the Half-T3 Sandhi rule.

- | | |
|--|-----------------------------------|
| 9. a. nǚ lǎo shī ‘female teachers’ | b. nǚ xué shēng ‘female students’ |
| 10. a. hěn hǎo chī ‘very delicious’ | b. hěn bù hǎo ‘very bad’ |
| 11. a. yě yǒu rén ‘also have people’ | b. yě shì rén ‘also is a person’ |
| 12. a. wǒ xiǎng kàn ‘I’d like to look’ | b. wǒ yào kàn ‘I want to look’ |

When students are able to produce Raised-T3 satisfactorily, they can proceed to longer T3 sequences. This exercise requires not only the knowledge of tone sandhi, but also skills of syntactic analysis and phrasing of the utterance. For example (cf. Hockett 1951):

- | | |
|--|--|
| 13. wǒ mǎi biǎo
‘I buy a watch’ | nǐ mǎi biǎo
‘You buy a watch’ |
| 14. wǒ yě mǎi biǎo
‘I also buy a watch’ | nǐ yě mǎi biǎo
‘You also buy a watch’ |

Similar to T3 Sandhi, which changes the first T3 to a rising tone, two T4 words, *yī* ‘one’ and *bù* ‘not’, should also be changed to a rising tone when they are followed by another T4. However, students should remember that this T4 Sandhi only applies to *yī* and *bù*, and not to any other T4 syllables. The exercise for *yī* and *bù* Sandhi should always include other items in order to simulate the real language environment. For example:

- | | | |
|---------------------------|----------------------|------------------------|
| 15. a. yì tiān ‘one day’ | b. bù chī ‘not eat’ | c. dà chī ‘to engorge’ |
| 16. a. yì nián ‘one year’ | b. bù lái ‘not come’ | c. dà xué ‘university’ |
| 17. a. yì qǐ ‘together’ | b. bù hǎo ‘not good’ | c. dà xiǎo ‘size’ |
| 18. a. yì yàng ‘be same’ | b. bù cuò ‘not bad’ | c. dà hào ‘large size’ |

Conclusion

A solid phonetic foundation of Chinese language is the bedrock of oral proficiency. Tones are one of the most challenging aspects of learning Chinese pronunciation for adult learners. L2 learners usually lack the stable mental (phonological) representation of the tone system and motor skill trainings that allow them accurately to reproduce the same sound patterns in connected speech later. This chapter thus discussed the teaching of tones based on brief introductions to the linguistic properties of Chinese lexical tones and some research findings of tone acquisition by adult learners. In particular, this chapter advocated (1) an early establishment of mental (phonological) presentation of tones, and (2) development of motor skills effectively. This chapter also provided several generic strategies for handling these two tasks, as well as three sets of sample training materials. It is hoped that the discussions developed here motivate further work on the designs of better-informed curriculum, teaching methods, and teaching materials for tone training.

Note

- 1 Despite its widespread use, L2 researchers have found that the *pinyin* spelling system may impede L2 learners' progress in learning the Chinese sound system. For example, Chen, C-Y. (2005) lists five points of difficulty for L2 learners which can be related directly back to the *pinyin* system (see more discussions in Chen, C-Y. 2005, Wu 2011).

References

English References

- Broselow, E., Chen, S. and Wang, C. (1998) 'The emergence of the unmarked in second language phonology'. *Studies in Second Language Acquisition* 20: 261–280.
- Broselow, E., Hurtig, R. and Ringen, C. (1987) 'The perception of second language prosody'. In G. Ioup and S. H. Weinberger (eds.), *Interlanguage Phonology*, 350–362. Cambridge: Newbury House.
- Chan, M. K. M. (1995) 'Students' tone production and audio-visual feedback'. Presented at the 1995 Annual Meeting of the Chinese Language Teachers Association. Anaheim, CA, November, 18–20, 1995.
- Chao, Y. R. (1948, 1967) *Mandarin Primer*. Cambridge: Harvard University Press.
- Chao, Y. R. (1951) 'The Cantian idiolect: An analysis of the Chinese spoken by a twenty-eight months-old child'. In W. J. Fischel (ed.), *Semitic and Oriental Studies*. Berkeley and Los Angeles: University of California Press.
- Chen, C-Y. (2005) 'Proposed modifications in teaching materials for Mandarin phonology'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 40(2): 67–78.
- Chen, G-T. (1974) 'Pitch range of English and Chinese Speakers'. *Journal of Chinese Linguistics* 2(2): 159–171.
- Chen, Q. H. (2000) *Analysis of Mandarin Tonal Errors in Connected Speech by English-Speaking American Adult Learners*. Brigham Young University: Dissertation manuscript.
- Chen, S. (1973) 'The third tone and see-saw pairs'. *Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association* 8 3): 145–149.
- Chen, T. H. and Massaro, D. W. (2008) 'Seeing pitch: Visual information for lexical tones of Mandarin-Chinese'. *Journal of the Acoustical Society of America* 123(4): 2356–2366.
- Cheng, C. C. (1973) *A Synchronic Phonology of Mandarin Chinese*. Mouton: Hague.
- Chung, K. S. (2013) 'Karen Chung talks about the echo method'. Podcast in Talking Taiwan website. Retrieved on July 4, 2013 from www.talkingtaiwan.com/about/
- Contreras, D. (2013) 'The echo method and the teaching of the four Mandarin Chinese tones'. Senior Honors Thesis. University of North Carolina at Chapel Hill.

- Duanmu, S. (2000) *The Phonology of Standard Chinese*. Heidelberg: Oxford University Press.
- Flemming, E. (2012) 'The grammar of co-articulation'. In M. Embarki and C. Dodane (eds.), *La Coarticulation: Indices, Direction et Representation*. Paris: L'Harmattan. Retrieved from <http://web.mit.edu/flemming/www/paper/grammar-of-coarticulation.pdf>.
- Hockett, C. F. (1951) *Progressive Exercises in Chinese Pronunciation*. New Haven: The Institute of Far Eastern Languages, Yale University.
- Holgate, E. (2013) 'The Effect of Tone Production in Lexical Tone Discrimination Training'. Manuscript. University of Florida.
- Ke, C.-R. (2012) 'Research in second language acquisition of Chinese: Where we are, where we are going'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 47(3): 43–113.
- Lado, R. (1968) *Linguistics Across Cultures-Applied Linguistics for Language Teachers*. Ann Arbor: The University of Michigan Press.
- Leather, J. (1990) 'Perceptual and productive learning of Chinese lexical tone by Dutch and English speakers'. In J. Leather and A. James (eds.), *New Sounds 90: Proceedings of the Amsterdam Symposium on the Acquisition of Second Language Speech*, 305–341. Amsterdam: University of Amsterdam.
- Leben, W. (1973) *Suprasegmental Phonology*. PhD dissertation. Massachusetts Institute of Technology.
- Li, C. and Thompson, S. (1977) 'The acquisition of tone in Mandarin-speaking children'. *Journal of Child Language* 4: 185–199.
- Lin, W. C. J. (1985) 'Teaching Mandarin tones to adult english speakers: Analysis of difficulties and suggested remedies'. *RELC Journal* 16(2): 31–47.
- Major, R. (2001) *Foreign Accent: The Ontogeny and Phylogeny of Second Language Phonology*. Mahwah, NJ: Lawrence Erlbaum Associates.
- Miracle, C. (1989) 'Tone production of American Students of Chinese: A preliminary acoustic study'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 24: 3.
- Shen, X. (1989) 'Toward a register approach in teaching mandarin tones'. *Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association* 24: 27–47.
- So, C. K. Lai. (2006) *Effects of L1 Prosodic Background and AV Training on Learning Mandarin Tones by Speakers of Cantonese, Japanese, and English*. PhD dissertation. Simon Fraser University.
- Sun, S. (1998) *The Development of a Lexical Tone Phonology in American Adult Learners of Standard Mandarin Chinese*. Honolulu: University of Hawai'i Press.
- Triskova, H. (2016) 'De-stressed words in Mandarin: Drawing parallel with English'. In H. Tao (ed.), *Integrating Chinese Linguistics Research and Language Learning and Teaching*, 121–144. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Tsung, C. (1987) 'Half-third first: On the nature of the third tone'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* XXII(1): 87–101.
- Wang, Y., Jongman, A. and Sereno, J. (2003) 'Acoustic and perceptual evaluation of Mandarintone productions before and after perceptual training'. *Journal of the Acoustical Society of America* 113(2): 1033–1043.
- Wang, Y., Spence, M., Jongman, A. and Sereno, J. (1999) 'Training American listeners to perceive Mandarin tones'. *Journal of the Acoustical Society of America* 106: 3649–3658.
- Wen, B. and Yan, F. (2015) 'The Merging between the second tone and the third tone in Mandarin acquisition by L2 learners'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 50(1): 19–41.
- White, C. (1981) 'Tonal pronunciation errors and interference from English intonation'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 16(2): 27–56.
- Wu, C.-H. (2011) *The Evaluation of Second Language Fluency and Foreign Accent*. PhD dissertation. University of Illinois at Urbana-Champaign.
- Xu, Y. (2001) 'Sources of tonal variations in connected speech'. *Journal of Chinese Linguistics*, monograph series #17: 1–31.
- Yang, B. (2015) *Perception and Production of Mandarin Tones by Native Speakers and L2 Learners*. Heidelberg: Springer.
- Yang, C.-S. (2016) *The Acquisition of L2 Mandarin Prosody*. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Yip, M. (1980) *The Tonal Phonology of Chinese*. MIT PhD dissertation (published 1990). New York: Garland Publishing.
- Yip, M. (2002) *Tone*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

- Zhang, H. (2010) 'Phonological universals and tone acquisition'. *Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association* 45(1): 39–65.
- Zhang, H. (2013) *The Second Language Acquisition of Mandarin Chinese Tones by English, Japanese and Korean Speakers*. PhD dissertation. University of North Carolina at Chapel Hill.
- Zhang, H. (2014) 'The third tone: Allophones, Sandhi rules and pedagogy'. *Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association* 49(1): 117–145.
- Zhang, H. (2015) 'Positional effects in second language Chinese tones'. *Journal of Chinese Language Teaching* 12(2): 1–30.
- Zhang, H. (2016a) 'Dissimilation in the second language acquisition of Mandarin Chinese tones'. *Second Language Research* 32(3): 427–451.
- Zhang, H. (2016b) 'The effect of theoretical assumptions on pedagogical methods: A case study of second language Chinese tones'. *International Journal of Applied Linguistics* 27(2): 363–382. doi:10.1111/ijal.12132.
- Zhang, H. (2018a) 'Current trends in research of Chinese sound acquisition'. In C.-R. Ke (ed.), *The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Second Language Acquisition*, 217–233. New York: Routledge.
- Zhang, H. (2018b) *Second Language Acquisition of Mandarin Chinese Tones—Beyond First-Language Transfer*. Leiden: Brill.
- Zhang, J. (2004) 'The role of contrast-specific and language-specific phonetics in contour tone distribution'. In B. Hayes, R. Kirchner and D. Steriade (eds.), *Phonetically Based Phonology*, 157–190. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Zhang, P. (2015) *Ni Wô Ta*. USA: Cengage Learning.
- Zhu, H. and Dodd, B. (2000) 'The phonological acquisition of Putonghua (Modern standard Chinese)'. *Journal of Child Language* 27: 3–42.

Chinese References

- Shi, Pei-Wen and Li, Ming 石佩雯, 李明 (1997) '三声问题研究' (On the third tone). In J. M. Zhao 赵金铭 (ed.), *语言研究与对外汉语教学 (Language Studies and Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language)*, 125–154. Beijing: Beijing Language and Culture University Press.
- Wang, Yun-Jia 王韞佳 (1995) '也谈美国人学习汉语声调' (On American learners' tone acquisition). *语言教学与研究 (Language Teaching and Research)* 2: 126–140.
- Zhao, Jin-Ming 赵金铭 (1988) '从一些声调语言的声调说到汉语声调' (Talking about tone in Chinese from the perspective of some tone languages). 第二届国际汉语教学讨论会论文选 (*Selected Papers from the Second International Symposium on Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language*), 171–181. Beijing: Beijing Language Institute.
- Zhao, Jin-Ming and Cheng, Mei-Zhen 赵金铭, 程美珍 (1997) '基础汉语语音教学的若干问题 (Several issues of teaching Mandarin sound system)'. In J.-M. Zhao and Z.-M. Meng (eds.), *语音研究与对外汉语教学 (Phonetic Study and Chinese Language Teaching)* Beijing: Beijing Language and Culture University.

Teaching Chinese Intonation and Rhythm

Chunsheng Yang

Introduction

This chapter focuses on the teaching of intonation and rhythm in second language (L2) Chinese. It begins with a brief introduction of the phonetics and phonology of intonation and rhythm. Topics discussed include the representations and functions of intonation, and syllable-timing and stress-timing. The next section surveys previous studies on the acquisition of L2 Chinese intonation and rhythm. It will be shown that, while intonation and rhythm play a significant role in all languages (i.e. the first aspects of speech that infants attend to and produce) (cf. Chun 2002), research on the acquisition of both aspects of Chinese has been very limited, not to mention the incorporation of intonation and rhythm in Chinese language teaching, as compared with the field of English as a Second Language (ESL). For that purpose, the chapter ends with a discussion on what aspects of intonation and rhythm should be incorporated into Chinese language teaching and provides research-informed pedagogical suggestions.

Importance of Intonation and Rhythm in Speech

L2 prosody, intonation, and rhythm included, has started to receive more and more attention in the field of applied linguistics (Chun 2002; Derwing and Munro 2015; Levis and Moyer 2014), especially in the ESL field. The field of Chinese language teaching, however, does not seem to pay much attention to the teaching of both intonation and rhythm. While there can be many reasons for the lack of such pedagogical practice (for example, L2 Chinese teaching field is relatively young, as compared to ESL), one important reason seems to lie in the fact that Chinese is a tone language. Since tone teaching and learning already poses a big challenge for L2 learners, instructors, and practitioners may hesitate to add intonation and rhythm to their teaching, or intonation and rhythm may have never been on the agenda of many language instructors. This chapter will make an argument that the teaching of intonation and rhythm for L2 Chinese is an integral part of Chinese language teaching and learning, and their role in L2 Chinese should not be downplayed, merely because Chinese is a tone language.

Phonetics and Phonology of Intonation

Intonation refers to the pitch or fundamental frequency (F0) pattern over a word, a phrase, or an utterance. F0 is the rate of the vocal fold vibration of a speaker per second, while pitch is the perceived fundamental frequency. Even though fundamental frequency and pitch are not exactly the same, especially at higher frequency, they are used interchangeably in this chapter. As compared with tones which differentiate lexical meanings, intonation mainly occurs at the phrasal and utterance level. However, it is almost impossible to tease apart tones from intonation in a tone language, such as Chinese, in that they are represented by the same acoustic parameter, namely F0, and interact with each other. Chao (1933) vividly described the relationship between tones and intonation as ‘small ripples riding on large waves’.

There are both phonetic and phonological models of intonation. The phonetic models are the ‘algebraic sum’ model (Chao 1933; Cao 2004; Wu 1996a, 1996b), the top-bottom line model (Shen 1985), the Soft TEMplate Mark-up Language (Stem-ML) model (Kochanski and Shih 2003), and the Parallel Encoding and Target Approximation (PENTA) model (Xu 2005). These phonetic models focus on the actual realizations of pitch by considering the interaction of lexical tones and intonation (Chao, Cao, and Wu), the overall pitch tendency (Shen), or the various communicative functions in speech (lexical, sentential, focal, emotional, etc.) (Xu). The phonological models are represented by the ToBI transcription system (Tones and Break Indices) (Peng et al. 2005). The ToBI system adopts a hierarchical approach towards intonation and examines the F0 (and stress) patterns at different prosodic constituents, such as prosodic word, intonational phrase, and breath group, and so on.

Intonation has various functions, such as grammatical function (i.e. to align with particular syntactic structures, statements versus questions and to chunk speech into various units), attitudinal/emotional function (i.e. to express cheerfulness, anger, doubt, caution, or sarcasm), discourse function (i.e. to mark information structure, and to indicate given vs. new information), and sociolinguistic function (i.e. dialectal variation in intonation). These functions of intonation may overlap with each other. For example, the question intonation may also indicate the doubt of the speaker (Chun 2002).

The use of intonation to convey some functions is mandatory (such as in differentiating statements from questions), the use of intonation to convey other functions may not be so or even redundant (Chun 2002: 50), such as the information status, in that the context may have already provided such information. Lee (2005) and Liu (2009), however, found that the different functions of intonation can be teased apart, indicating that the use of intonation may not be redundant in any case.

Phonetics and Phonology of Rhythm

As compared with intonation (i.e. the F0 pattern in an utterance), rhythm is the durational pattern of an utterance. The impression of the repetitive durational patterns across languages has led to the categorization of rhythm into the isochrony of syllables, namely, syllables in syllable-timing languages tend to be equal in duration, and the isochony of inter-stress interval, namely, stress-delimited feet tend to be of equal duration in stress-timing languages (Abercrombie 1967). While experimental studies have failed to provide evidence of such isochronous units (Arvaniti 2009, 2012), the strong impression of the existence of the rhythmic patterns have led researchers to approach rhythm from other perspectives, such as rhythm metrics. Rhythm metrics are calculated to measure the complexity of syllable structure, vowel quality, and stress patterns

across languages (Ramus et al. 1999; Low, Grabe and Nolan 2000; Grabe and Low 2002; Dellwo and Wagner 2003; Knight 2011). Arvaniti (2009), Kim (2006), Patel (2008) and Yang and Chu (2016), however, found that rhythm metrics only partially capture the rhythm patterns across languages; it is, therefore, suggested that rhythm studies should treat rhythm as the product of prominence and patterning (Arvaniti 2009: 61) and rhythm should be examined 'in the sense of systematic temporal, accentual, and grouping patterns of sounds' (Patel 2008: 150).

In addition to helping classify languages into different, although not so clear-cut, rhythm groups, speech rhythm serves a dual function: 1) to help speakers mark lexical and sentential stress to highlight new information or indicate emphasis; and 2) to help listeners identify individual words and the more salient information in an utterance (Chun 2002: 147).

Studies on L1 and L2 Chinese Intonation

Research on Chinese intonation has mainly focused on the production and perception of question intonation, as compared to statement intonation (Chao 1933, 1968: 812; Shen J. 1985, 1994; Shen X.N. 1990; Lee 2005; Liu 2009; Yuan 2004). While these studies show that question intonation is different from statement intonation, they differ with respect to whether question intonation is marked by localized F0 cues (i.e. the F0 rise on a few initial syllables or the final syllable) and/or by the global F0 cues (i.e. the F0 rise over the whole utterance or a constituent large than a word unit). Shen X. N. (1990) argued that the most crucial F0 cue for questions is localized at the utterance-initial position, whereas most others argued that the rising F0 contour for questions is anchored towards the end of an utterance (primarily on the last syllable by Chao 1933 and Wu 1982; on the last stressed syllable by Shen, J. 1985; the high boundary tone on the final prosodic word by Lin 2012). Moreover, Lee (2005), Liu (2009), Xu (2005), Yuan (2004) found that question intonation is also accompanied by the expanded pitch range (starting from the first accented or focused word), similar to the F0 manipulation of focus (Xu 2005).

As compared with the abundant studies on the acquisition of L2 lexical tones (see Chapter 14 of the handbook), studies on the acquisition of L2 Chinese intonation are very limited. Worth noting is that some studies on the acquisition of L2 Chinese tones show the interference of English intonation on tone learning. For example, Chen Q. (2000) found boundary-marking interference in utterance-final position in L2 Chinese, namely English speakers tended to end a declarative with Tone 3 (a low tone) or Tone 4 (a falling tone), and a prosodic interference effect resembling the English continuation rise in the intermediate-phrase final position (e.g. a falling tone was produced as a rising tone). Viger (2007) was one of the few studies examining the acquisition of Mandarin intonation (statements, questions, and surprise echo questions) by L2 English learners (high intermediate to advanced levels). She found that L2 English learners did not acquire the overall raising of pitch throughout Mandarin yes/no and echo questions, nor did they transfer English global prosodic contours to L2 Chinese, except for the final syllable rise in Chinese questions. Viger proposed some explanations for the findings: 1) online-processing difficulties, namely, the limited processing resources used for the accurate production of local phenomena, such as segmental contrasts and lexical tones and stress, may have depleted the resources that might be needed for the control of global phenomena; 2) insufficient L1 input; 3) lack of explicit instruction of L2 intonation. Yang (2013) examines the acquisition of utterance-level pitch patterns in Chinese by L2 English learners and found that the pitch patterns between two syntactic structures for the same tone sequence vary with the tone sequence and the subject group. The biggest difference between L1 and L2 Chinese lies in the frequency of tone target undershoot in L2 speech. The infrequent tone target undershoot in L2 speech, especially among the intermediate learners, was attributed to the incomplete acquisition of L2 prosody. It

was argued that the infrequent tone target undershoot may render L2 speech more staccato or robot-like, hence contributing to the perception of a foreign accent in L2 Mandarin Chinese.

Studies on L1 and L2 Chinese Rhythm

Mandarin Chinese is often considered to be a syllable-timed language (Fon and Johnson 2000; Grabe and Low 2002; Packard 1994). Feng (2005, 2009), Wang (2003), Wu (1996a), and Yang and Chu (2016), however, showed that Beijing Mandarin speakers tend to produce a lot of unstressed syllables in their speech, characterized by reduced segments (i.e. consonants and vowels) and neutral tones.

Figure 11.1 shows the wave form and textgrids of a statement produced by a male Beijing Mandarin speaker in his early 30s. As can be seen in the figure, in addition to the neutral tones on 的 *de* ‘the possessive particle in Chinese’ and 西 *xi* ‘west’, the tones on another two syllables 上 *shang* ‘on’ and 净 *jing* ‘clean’ are neutralized. As pointed out by Wu (1996a), a sequence of neutral tones are often produced in Mandarin, especially, Beijing Mandarin, speech. In this sense, Mandarin Chinese, at least Beijing Mandarin, is also characterized by stress-timing to some extent. As Chen M. (2000: 286) commented, stress in Chinese is ‘elusive’, but real. It is generally agreed that there are three types of phonological stresses in Chinese: unstressed syllables, (normal) stressed syllables, and accented (sententially stressed) syllables (contrastive stress or focus included) (Chao 1968). However, it should be pointed out that Chinese native speakers’ judgment on the degree of stress, especially the sentential stress, is elusive and far less clear-cut than native English speakers’ judgment of stress in English, such as subJECT vs. SUBject (capitalization indicates stress) (Chen M. 2000: 288).

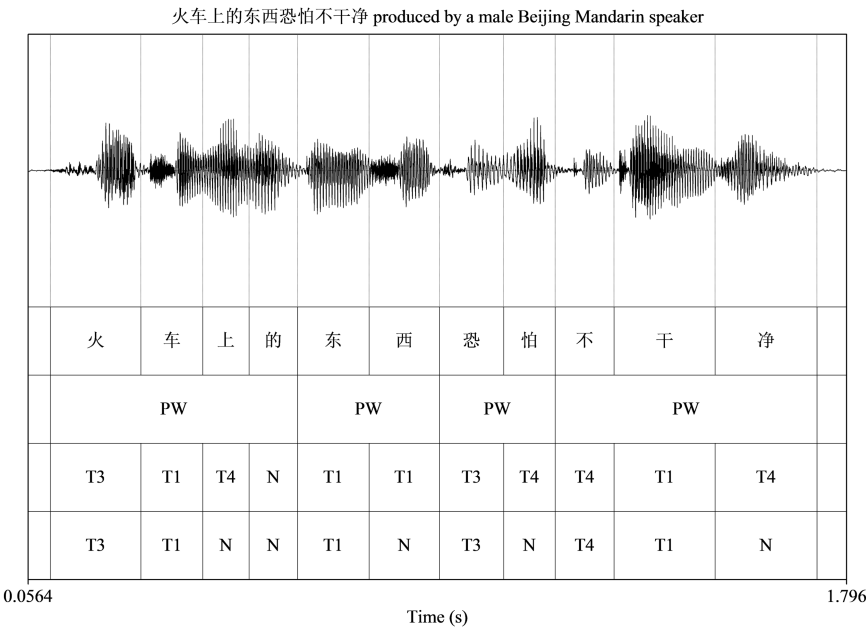


Figure 11.1 A statement produced by a male Beijing Mandarin speaker (there are four tiers of textgrids in the figure. The first tier is the syllable/morpheme tier, the second is the prosodic word tier (PW), the third is the underlying tone category tier, e.g. T1, T2, T3, T4, and neutral tone (N), and the fourth tier is the surfaced tone tier)

There are very few L2 studies focusing on Chinese rhythm per se, although there are some studies on temporal patterns of L2 Chinese. Yang and Chu (2016) compared the rhythm of L1 Chinese and L2 Chinese by five learner groups. It was found that two rhythm metrics, rPVI-C (the mean of the difference between successive consonantal intervals) and %V (the proportion of vocalic intervals within a sentence), can differentiate L1 from L2 Chinese, and L2 Chinese by the American learners from the other learners (Japanese, Yoruba, Thai, and Korean). The smaller %V and higher rPVI-C values in the American group were attributed to the transfer of L2 English rhythm pattern. That is to say, the American L2 learners transferred English stress patterns to L2 Chinese, hence, producing the alternation of stressed and unstressed syllables, as in English (Cutler 2015; Liberman and Prince 1977). As a result, some consonants and vowels in L2 Chinese by the American group were lengthened while others were shortened, hence the lower %V and higher rPVI-C metrics in the American group.

What to Include in Chinese Intonation Teaching?

The discussion of the limited studies on L2 Chinese intonation and rhythm shows that, while intonation and rhythm play a significant role across languages, not enough importance has been attached to these two important prosodic aspects in Chinese, not to mention the incorporation of intonation and rhythm in Chinese language teaching. However, there are several reasons why it is equally important to teaching intonation (and rhythm) in L2 Chinese teaching, despite the fact that Chinese is a tone language and learning tones is a challenging mission. First, tones interact with intonation in speech and they may harmonize (the case of Tone 4 at the end of a statement) or clash (the case of Tone 4 at the end of a question) with each other (Yang and Chan 2010). Second, lexical tones in speech maybe overridden by intonation or coarticulation (Yang 2013). Third, intonation, not tones, can fulfill many discourse functions, such as expressing the interrogative, exclamatory, or imperative functions, marking prominence in utterances, indicating the beginning, continuation, and ending of an utterance (Tseng et al. 2005: 289), and keeping thought groups together (namely, prosodic phrasing) (Chun 2002: 215).

While there are many aspects of intonation and rhythm that can be included in Chinese language teaching, this chapter only highlights those aspects which are informed by previous research and are, therefore, considered to be teachable or highly important for L2 Chinese speech. In the discussion below, we first highlight important issues in L2 Chinese intonation and rhythm with the help of a pitch-tracking program, Praat (Boersma and Weenink 2018), based upon previous research findings. Following the discussion of these important aspects of intonation and rhythm, a new section will be devoted to specific pedagogical practices for how to incorporate these aspects into L2 Chinese language teaching.

Statement and Question Intonation and Intonation of Other Sentence Types

Viger (2007) found that intermediate and advanced L2 Chinese learners only produce the F0 rise on the last syllable in questions, without producing the overall F0 raising in questions. Meanwhile, native speakers can perceive the interrogative function separately from other functions, such as focus (Liu 2009). As pointed out by Viger (2007), one important reason for the lack of overall F0 raising in L2 Chinese question is due to the lack of L2 input. It is, therefore, important to teach L2 Chinese learners to differentiate question intonation from statement

intonation and provide them with such knowledge in the first place, especially the intonation difference between syntactically unmarked yes-no and echo questions and statements.

Figure 11.2 shows the schematized intonation of statements, unmarked yes-no echo questions, and ma-particle questions in Chinese (cited from Lee 2005: 157 with permission). As shown in Figure 11.2, the question intonation in the ma-particle and unmarked yes-no question, as compared to general falling intonation in the statement, has both global (the overall raised F0 and expanded pitch range) and localized F0 manipulations (terminal F0 rise on the last noun phrase). Also the nuanced difference in pragmatics between the info-seeking question and echo question can be shown by the more pitch raising of top line and more pitch range expansion in the echo questions. While it is too demanding to require the L2 learners to produce exactly the same F0 difference between statements and different types of questions, it is necessary to teach the L2 learners to produce both the overall F0 raise and the terminal F0 rise in questions, especially in the echo questions.

Another potential difficulty in intonation relates to what Yang and Chan (2010) termed as tone-intonation clash. The so-called tone-intonation clash refers to a statement ending with Tone 2 or a question ending with a Tone 4. Yang and Chan showed that the tone-intonation conflict poses big difficulty for the identification of sentence intonation.

Figure 11.3 shows the F0 contours of one sentence ending with a Tone 2, produced as a statement and an echo question respectively. As shown in the figure, although both sentences have final rise due to the final rising Tone 2, the terminal rise in the statement does not go as high as in the echo question; more importantly, the overall F0 pattern in the statement is clearly lower than that in the echo question. The L2 learners should be cautioned that the terminal rise in Chinese is only a necessary condition for the question intonation, and only when there are both global F0 raise and terminal F0 rise is the intonation question produced.

In addition to question and statement intonation, other types of sentence types or pragmatics, such as imperative or exclamatory intonation, may be added in intonation instruction, although they are not used as frequently as question and statement intonation.

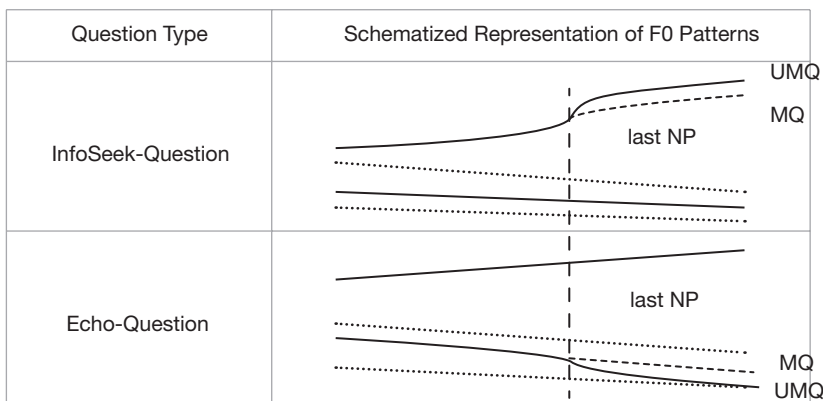


Figure 11.2 Schematized representation of the intonation of statement (dotted line), unmarked yes-no or echo question (solid line), and ma-particle question (dashed line) in Chinese (*An echo question is a reiterative question uttered to confirm whether the questioner hears the statement correctly, or express the speaker's incredulity or surprise)

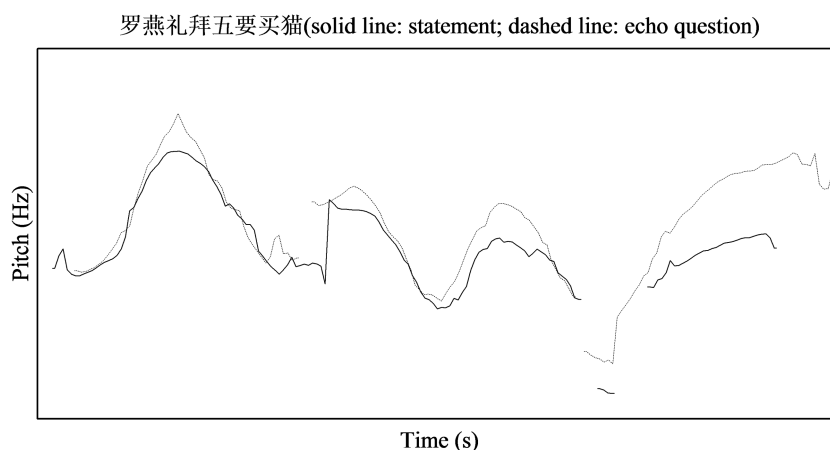


Figure 11.3 F0 contours of one sentence 罗燕礼拜五要买羊 as a statement (solid line) and an echo question (dotted line) produced by a female Beijing Mandarin speaker in her 30s

Discourse, Pragmatics, and Intonation

Intonation has many discourse functions (cf. Chun 2002). Actually the intonation of different types of sentences also falls within the category of discourse intonation. For L2 Chinese, there are two other important issues: focus (contrastive stress, or sentence stress) and prosodic phrasing. Focus in Chinese is realized not only by increasing F0, duration, and upper spectral energy of the focused component, but also by compressing the pitch range and intensity of the post-focus components (Xu 2011); however, not every language marks focus by post-focus compression; for example, Taiwanese and Taiwanese Mandarin do not have post-focus compression (Xu, Chen and Wang 2009). Chen, Guion-Anderson and Xu (2012) showed that although both American English and Chinese have post-focus compression, non-heritage American L2 learners of Chinese did not produce post-focus compression; obviously, no L1 transfer takes place when it comes to post-focus compression. Therefore, it is important to make sure L2 Chinese learners are aware of and are able to produce the prosodic patterns of focus in Chinese. Figure 11.4, cited from Xu (2011), schematically shows the F0 contours of focus in Chinese.

Prosodic phrasing refers to the way an utterance is broken into smaller constituents, such as intonation phrases or breath groups.

Figure 11.5, cited from Tseng et al. (2005: 289), shows the F0 contours of five prosodic phrases in a prosodic group in Mandarin Chinese. Tseng et al. argued that the F0 features of the three PG positions (PG-initial, PG-medial, and PG-final positions) reflect the different functions of intonation. Specifically, the F0 reset and the non-terminal fall in PG-initial prosodic phrase indicate a new beginning to be followed by more speech. The flatter and less-distinct F0 pattern in PG-medial prosodic phrases indicates a continuing effect, while another lower reset and the following gradual decline and final lengthening in the PG-final prosodic phrase indicate the approaching of the overall terminal effects. What Tseng et al. define as a prosodic group refers to a group of utterances; nonetheless, the same pattern of F0 may apply to the prosodic phrases within a single utterance. While such F0 patterns in a long utterance may be argued to represent

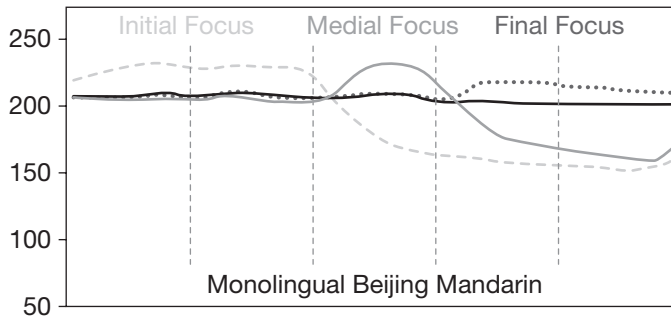


Figure 11.4 F0 contours of focus at the initial-, medial-, and final position of a sentence

Source: Cited from Xu 2011 with permission



Figure 11.5 Schematic F0 contours of five prosodic phrases in a prosodic group (PG) in Mandarin Chinese

Source: Cited from Tseng et al. 2005: 289 with permission

linguistic universal to some extent, it would be advisable for the L2 learners to gain the explicit knowledge and learn to produce them.

Tone Coarticulation

Yang (2013) and Yang (2016, Chapter 4) compared the utterance-level prosody between L1 and L2 Chinese and found that the biggest F0 difference between L1 and L2 Mandarin Chinese is the frequency of tone target undershoot, namely the low target or high target is not fully reached due to pitch interpolation on the syllables before and after the target syllable. In particular, L2 learners did not produce the appropriate target undershoot at phrase-initial and phrase-medial positions as frequently as the native speakers. As pointed out by Yang, such infrequent tone target undershoot may not render L2 speech unintelligible; it, however, does render L2 Chinese more mechanical or staccato. In this sense, such tone target undershoot should be practiced to help L2 learners acquire tone coarticulation. Figure 11.6 gives an example of tone target undershoot. Figure 11.6 provides an example of tone target undershoot. In the figure, the rising tone on the second syllable 明 *míng* was produced as a level tone, due to tone coarticulation. Moreover, the tone on the syllable 拿 *ná* was also reduced, even though the surface F0 contour does display a slightly rising contour. By listening to the sound file and observing the F0 contour as shown in Figure 11.6, L2 learners will gain a more vivid impression of tone target undershoot. This increased awareness can become the basis for production training, when learners are asked to produce the utterance containing the target undershoot.

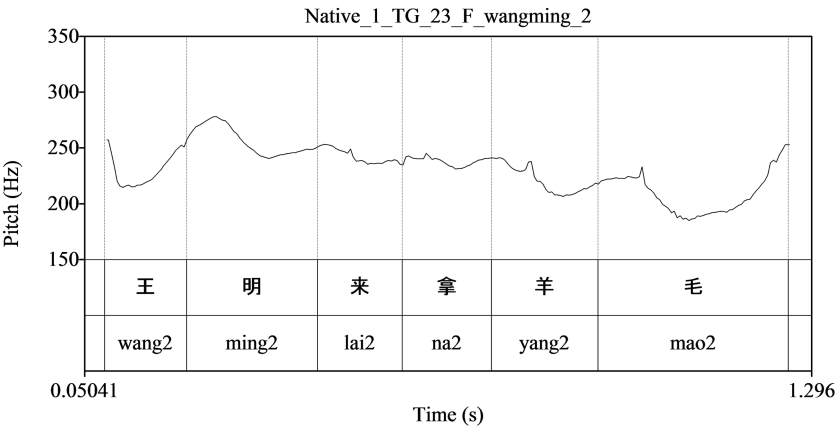


Figure 11.6 Illustration of tone target undershoot: An utterance produced by a female native speaker

Source: Adapted from Yang 2016

What to Include in Chinese Rhythm Teaching?

As Wu (1996b) and Yang and Chu (2016) showed, Chinese rhythm can be characterized by syllable-timing with some stress-timing. Since the perception of rhythm is the product of prominence and patterning or phrasing (Arvaniti 2009: 61), the teaching of Chinese rhythm entails the teaching of prosodic phrasing and temporal patterns. With prosodic phrasing discussed in the previous section, this section focuses on the teaching of the temporal aspect or stress of Chinese. In spite of the various proposals on how phrasal/sentential stress is assigned in Chinese (cf. Chen M. 2000), it is believed that stress is an integral part of Chinese prosody and should be incorporated in Chinese language teaching.

Of three types of phonological stresses in Chinese, namely, unstressed syllables; (normal) stressed syllables; and accented (sentential stressed) syllables (contrastive stress included) (Chao 1968), we will focus on the first two types. Note that the phrasal/sentential stress overlaps with the focus discussed in the previous section on intonation teaching in that both are accompanied by both pitch and duration manipulations.

First, the distinction between stressed and unstressed syllables should be taught. The minimal pairs of stressed and unstressed syllables/words can be a good starting point.

Table 11.1 gives two examples of minimal pairs of stressed and unstressed syllables. In addition to the minimal pairs of words, there are many other categories of unstressed syllables at the lexical and syntactic levels, which are nicely summarized in Wu (2005: 143–145). According to Wu, unstressed syllables at the lexical level can occur in lexical reduplications (妈妈, 宝宝) (underlying indicates the unstressed syllables), single-morpheme words (单纯词) (玻璃, 萝卜, 琵琶), some disyllabic words (明白, 功夫, 告诉), and some suffixes (桌子, 石头, 盖儿). At the syntactic levels, unstressed syllables can occur in verb reduplications (试试, 走走), directional verbs (进来, 出去, 上来), locatives (桌上, 楼下, 窗外), resultative complements (吃坏, 听到), plural suffixes (同学们, 运动运动员们), sentence-final particles (多美啊, 对的, 行吗), structural particles (鲜红的, 高兴得跳起来), and aspect markers (躺着看书, 去过那里). Wen (2014) argued that many Chinese syntactic categories which are mostly unstressed (Wen focused on sentence-final particles and other lexical/phrasal downgraders, such as verbs denoting abstract

Table 11.1 Examples of the contrast between fully toned stressed syllable and neutrally atonic syllables

<i>Pinyin & characters</i>	<i>Tone numbers</i>	<i>Translation</i>
<i>dong xi</i> 东西	55. 55 55. 0	i. 'east and west' ii. 'things, stuff'
<i>di dao</i> 地道	51.51 51.0	i. 'tunnel' ii. 'genuine'

meanings such as V一下) are inherently low in semantic value, but high in pragmatic meaning, and tend to pose persistent challenge to L2 learners (not only in the correct usage, but also in pronunciation). In this sense, it is of great importance to teach L2 learners about these unstressed syllables in Chinese.

Pedagogical Practice in Teaching Chinese Intonation and Rhythm

Having discussed what aspects to include in teaching Chinese intonation and rhythm, I will discuss what pedagogical practices/exercises can be adopted in actual teaching.

Chun (2002: 202) summarizes the typical progression for teaching intonation as below:

- sensitization (listening exercises)
- explanation (comparison with native languages, if possible)
- imitation (controlled speaking exercises)
- practice activities (rehearsed speaking activities)
- communicative activities (extemporaneous speaking activities)

This five-step progression of intonation teaching consists of two types of activities: 1) lower-level perception and production of intonation/rhythm patterns (the first three steps); and 2) higher-level communicative activities focusing on the use of various intonation/rhythm patterns (the last two steps).

In the following, specific pedagogical practice will be proposed according to Chun's five-step approach.

Sensitization and Explanation

As in the teaching of any other aspect of L2 pronunciation, it is of utmost importance to develop learners' knowledge and raise their awareness of the patterns of Chinese intonation and rhythm. Audio-visual training afforded by technology, in which both the audio and visual input and feedback are provided to learners, has proved to be very effective in L2 pronunciation teaching, including L2 intonation and rhythm (Anderson-Hsieh 1992; Chan 1995; Chun 2002; de Bot 1983; So 2003, 2006). Such audio-visual training provides learners with dual channel input to assist them with learning sound segments, prosody, and other aspects of pronunciation. Audio-visual training can enhance learners' awareness of phonological/phonetic acoustic characteristics of L2 pronunciation, which, in turn, assists them in establishing the sound categories or prosodic patterns. Therefore, audio-visual programs, such as *Praat*, are strongly recommended for teaching intonation and rhythm, as well as other aspects of L2 pronunciation.

Take the teaching of statement and question intonation for example. In teaching practice, L2 learners should be lectured about the differences between question and statement

intonation first and then listen to the audios of pairs of statements and questions. In listening, L2 learners should be alerted that the Chinese question intonation, as compared to the statement intonation, is cued by both the overall F0 raise over the whole utterance, and the sentence-final F0 rise, as shown in Figures 11.2 and 11.3. For the native speakers of English, it will also be helpful and necessary to compare the statement and yes-no question intonation in English with that in Chinese. In American English, the yes-no question intonation is usually represented by the high phrase accent followed by the high boundary tone toward the end of the question, whereas the statement intonation is cued by the low phrase accent followed by the low boundary tone (Beckman, Hirschberg and Shattuck-Hufnagel 2005). After L2 learners have learned about the acoustical difference between Chinese and English intonation with the help of Praat or other acoustical analysis programs, the instructors can ask L2 learners to produce Chinese question intonation as well as statement intonation and provide corrective feedback, if needed.

Imitation and Practice Activities

Imitation and practice activities can take various forms, such as listening to and repeating instructors' speech. However, it should be noted that there is very limited time that can be used for such listening and speaking exercises in L2 class, except at the beginning level. More importantly, some aspects of L2 pronunciation, such as Chinese intonation and rhythm, has not been given due attention in Chinese language teaching practice. To achieve a more desirable result, L2 instructors may incorporate shadowing practice in their courses. Shadowing was originally used to train simultaneous interpreting, namely, one should repeat the speaker's speech almost at the same time, but usually with seconds time lag. The shadowing practice has been shown to be effective in helping L2 learners improve their pronunciation in that it helps learners to practice decoding L2 speech faster, ultimately automatically (Foote 2015; Harmon 2014; Hsieh, Dong and Wang 2013; Kadota 2007, among many others). In order to shadow another speaker's speech almost simultaneously, learners have to understand most of what the speaker is speaking and be able to produce not only the segments but also the prosody of the speaker. With abundant and sustained shadowing practice, L2 learners would improve their L2 pronunciation in an all-around way, intonation and rhythm included.

Again take the teaching of different types of Chinese intonation for example. Instructors can prepare audio recordings which contain various questions, such as radio/TV shows which contain various questions and answers, for students to shadow outside of class. It takes several steps to do shadowing. First, students need to understand the speech, usually with the help of the written script. Then students will practice reading the written script before going ahead to do the shadowing. Learners are expected to record their shadowing exercises and then send them to the instructor or teaching assistant, if any, for further one-on-one tutoring sessions. As pointed out by Kadota (2007: 236), the materials used in shadowing exercises should be one level above the learners' current level, that is to say, the materials should be neither too easy nor too difficult. After learners are comfortable with shadowing practice at this level, instructors may assign other materials which are not accompanied by written scripts, for students to shadow either in class or outside of class. What is important in these shadowing exercises, instructors should be able to access the recordings of the students' shadowing and provide feedback in both the shadowing practice itself and the learners' pronunciation, or adjust the difficulty level of the shadowing materials if the assigned ones turn out to be too easy or too difficult.

Communicative Activities

Although the mechanic practice of different types of intonation in L2 Chinese is important, it would be necessary to come up with communicative activities so that L2 learners not only know how to produce the different types of intonation, they also know when to use the appropriate intonation patterns. For this purpose, form-focused instruction (FFI), namely, the instruction which draws the learners' attention to language form either implicitly or explicitly and integrates into communicatively oriented and content-based classes (Spada 1997: 73; Spada 2011), is very effective in teaching L2 pronunciation, including L2 suprasegmentals (Saito and Wu 2014), and should be incorporated in intonation teaching. For example, Saito and Wu's (2014) study showed that FFI promotes learners' attentional shift from vocabulary to sound learning and facilitates their access to new phonetic and phonological categories. To improve L2 learners' intonation, the instructor can meet with L2 learners individually (the classroom format may not work equally well) and engage in oral communication based upon the actual context or an imagined scenario, in which the instructor will use different intonation and elicit the same from L2 learners. Furthermore, task-based language teaching can also be very effective in promoting attention to and development of L2 pronunciation (Gurzynski-Weiss, Long and Solon 2017, and articles in the same issue). Tasks can consist of both in-class and out-of-class ones. For the in-class tasks, students can be assigned oral tasks, such as interviewing two or three classmates and confirming their hobbies/interests (at the beginning or intermediate level) or their opinions on more serious issues, such as education and environment. Out-of-class tasks can be a Chinese consumer consumption habit survey or informal political poll. In both types of tasks, students should be required to try to engage in conversations with their classmates/participants of the survey by using different types of intonation, such as statement question, yes-no question, echo question, and so on. For the out-of-class activities, students can even record the survey or poll, if the participants permits, and submit the recordings to instructors for assessment and/or further practice of intonation.

Another promising approach of teaching intonation is interactive alignment (Pickering and Garrod 2013, cf. Trofimovich 2016). Interactive alignment is a phenomenon whereby interlocutors adopt and re-use each other's language patterns, including pronunciation, in actual interaction (Trofimovich 2016). Trofimovich (2016) showed the positive effect of interactive alignment in helping L2 learners acquire stress patterns in ESL. In teaching intonation, particular activities eliciting particular intonation patterns may be designed so that L2 learners may acquire the intonation patterns in the course of interaction with others, ideally advanced learners or native speakers who can produce the appropriate intonation patterns according to different communicative functions. Furthermore, interactive alignment of intonation will also take place between the instructors and L2 learners in the above-mentioned FFI instruction/practice and task-based activities (Pickering and Garrod 2013, cited from Trofimovich 2016), hence improving L2 learners' intonation production at multiple levels.

In addition to the in-class discussion and practice, and the one-on-one sessions on the question and statement intonation, additional exercises on teaching different types of intonation can be designed and hosted online, even assigned as part of the coursework, so that L2 learners can practice the various intonation types on their own. If possible, a speech analysis program, such as *Praat*, can be embedded in these exercises so that the pitch contours of students' productions can be displayed and compared with the productions by native speakers of Chinese. However, it will entail the collaboration of Chinese instructors and professional educational technologists to design such instructional programs.

Concluding Remarks

One of the goals of this chapter is to make a case that intonation and rhythm teaching is an equally important part of Chinese language teaching and its pedagogical role should not be downplayed due to the Chinese tonal status. What is discussed in the chapter is mostly research-based or informed. However, worth nothing is that the field of Chinese intonation and rhythm is rather underdeveloped in both L1 and L2, as compared to lexical tones. Future research should investigate the interaction of tones and intonation, discourse intonation (e.g. pitch reset and F0 contours at different discourse levels), rhythmic patterns in both L1 and L2. It is expected that, with more studies on Chinese intonation and rhythm, we will be able to gain a better understanding of Chinese intonation and rhythm and better incorporate them into Chinese language teaching. On the pedagogical side, recent years have seen the renewed interest in L2 pronunciation and new approaches have been applied to teaching L2 pronunciation (i.e. FFI, task-based language teaching, and interactive alignment). These new approaches to teaching pronunciation, intonation and rhythm included, should be tested and adopted as an integral component of Chinese language teaching.

References

- Abercrombie, D. (1967) *Elements of General Phonetics*. Edinburgh: Edinburgh University Press.
- Anderson-Hsieh, J. (1992) 'Using electronic visual feedback to teach suprasegmentals'. *System* 20: 51–62.
- Arvaniti, A. (2009) 'Rhythm, timing and the timing of rhythm'. *Phonetica* 66(1/2): 46–63.
- Arvaniti, A. (2012) 'The usefulness of metrics in the quantification of speech rhythm'. *Journal of Phonetics* 40: 351–373.
- Beckman, M. E., Hirschberg, J. and Shattuck-Hufnagel, S. (2005) 'The original ToBI system and the evolution of the ToBI framework'. In S.-A. Jun (ed.), *Prosodic Typology: The Phonology of Intonation and Phrasing II: Segment, Gesture, Prosody*, 68–86. Cambridge: CUP.
- Boersma, P. and Weenink, D. (2018) Praat: Doing phonetics by computer [Computer program]. Version 6.0.37. Retrieved on March 14, 2018 from www.praat.org/
- Cao, J. (2004) 'Intonation structure of spoken Chinese: Universality and specificity'. In J. Fant. and J. Jusisaki et al. (eds.), *From Traditional Phonology to Modern Speech Processing*. Beijing: Foreign Language Teaching and Research Press.
- Chan, M. K. M. (1995) 'Students' tone production and audio-visual feedback'. Presented at the *1995 Annual Meeting of the Chinese Language Teachers Association*. Anaheim, California, November 18–20, 1995.
- Chao, Y. R. (1933) 'Tone and Intonation in Chinese'. *Bulletin of the Institute of History and Philology* 4: 121–134.
- Chao, Y. R. (1968) *A Grammar of Spoken Chinese*. California: University of California Press.
- Chen, M. Y. (2000) *Tone Sandhi—Patterns across Chinese Dialects*. Cambridge University Press.
- Chen, Q. (2000) *An Analysis of Mandarin Tonal Errors in Connected Speech by English-speaking American Adult Learners: A Study at and above the Word Level*. PhD dissertation. Brigham Young University.
- Chen, S.-W., Wang, B. and Xu, Y. (2009) 'Closely related languages, different ways of realizing focus'. In *Proceedings of Interspeech 2009*, 1007–1010. Brighton, UK.
- Chen, Y., Guion-Anderson, S. and Xu, Y. (2012) 'Post-focus compression in second language Mandarin'. In *Proceedings of Speech Prosody 2012*, 410–413. Shanghai, China.
- Chun, D. M. (2002) *Discourse Intonation in L2: From Theory and Research to Practice*. Amsterdam and Philadelphia: John Benjamins Publishing Company.
- Cutler, A. (2015) 'Lexical stress in English pronunciation'. In M. Reed and J. Levis (eds.), *The Handbook of English Pronunciation*, 106–124. Boston, MA: Wiley Blackwell.
- De Bot, K. (1983) 'Visual feedback of intonation, I: Effectiveness and induced practice behavior'. *Language and Speech* 26(4): 331–350.

- Dellwo, V. and Wagner, P. (2003) 'Relations between language rhythm and speech rate'. In M. J. Solé, D. Recasens and J. Romero (eds.), *Proceedings of 15th International Congress of Phonetic Sciences*, 471–474. Rundle Mall: Causal Productions.
- Derwing, T. M. and Munro, M. J. (2015) *Pronunciation Fundamentals: Evidence-based Perspectives for L2 Teaching and Research*. Amsterdam: John Benjamins Publishing Company.
- Feng, S. (2005) *Chinese Prosodic Syntax*. Beijing: Beijing University Press.
- Feng, S. (2009) *Chinese Prosody, Morphology and Syntax*. Beijing: Beijing University Press.
- Fon, J. and Johnson, K. (2000) 'Speech timing patterning as an indicator of discourse and syntactic boundaries'. In *Proceedings of the 6th International Conference of Spoken Language Processing*, 555–558. Beijing, China.
- Foote, J. A. (2015) *Pronunciation Pedagogy and Speech Perception: Three Studies*. Unpublished doctoral dissertation. Concordia College, Montreal. Retrieved on October 9, 2018, from <http://spectrum.library.concordia.ca/980242/>
- Grabe, E. and Low, E. (2002) 'Durational variability in speech and the rhythm class hypothesis'. In C. Gussenhoven and N. Warner (eds.), *Studies in Laboratory Phonology*, 7. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Gurzynski-Weiss, L., Long, A. Y. and Solon, M. (2017) 'TBLT and L2 pronunciation: Do the benefits of task extend beyond grammar and lexis?' *Studies in Second Language Acquisition* 39(2): 213–224.
- Harmon, D. II. (2014) 'Teaching fluency and rhythm to learners using reading aloud and shadowing'. In N. Barbieri and M. Giordano (eds.), *Teaching the Sound System of English*. Temple University Japan Studies in Applied Linguistics 90: 33–43.
- Hsieh, K.-T., Dong, D.-H. and Wang, L.-Y. (2013) 'A preliminary study of applying shadowing technique to English intonation instruction'. *Taiwan Journal of Linguistics* 11: 43–65.
- Kadota, S. (2007) *Shadowing to ondoku no kagaku* [The Science of Shadowing and Oral Reading]. Tokyo: Cosmopier.
- Kim, H. (2006) *Speech Rhythm in American English: A Corpus Study*. Unpublished PhD dissertation. University of Illinois at Urbana-Champaign.
- Knight, R. A. (2011) 'Assessing the temporal reliability of rhythm metrics'. *Journal of the International Phonetic Association* 41(3): 271–281.
- Kochanski, G. and Shih, C.-L. (2003) 'Prosody modeling with soft templates'. *Speech Communication* 39(3/4): 311–352.
- Lee, O. J. (2005) *The Prosody of Questions in Beijing Mandarin*. PhD dissertation. The Ohio State University.
- Levis, J. and Moyer, A. (eds.). (2014) *Social Dynamics in Second Language Accent*. Berlin: De Gruyter Mouton.
- Low, E., Grabe, L. and Nolan, F. (2000) 'Quantitative characterizations of speech rhythm: "Syllable-timing" in Singapore English'. *Language and Speech* 43: 377–401.
- Liberman, M. and Prince, A. (1977) 'On stress and linguistic rhythm'. *Linguistic Inquiry* 8(2): 249–336.
- Lin, M. (2012) *Experimental Studies on Chinese Intonation*. Beijing: Chinese Social Sciences Press.
- Liu, F. (2009). *Intonation systems of Mandarin and English: A functional approach*. PhD dissertation. University of Chicago.
- Packard, J. L. (1994) *A Linguistic Investigation of Aphasic Chinese Speech*. Dordrecht: Kluwer Academic Publishers.
- Patel, A. D. (2008) *Music, Language, and the Brain*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Boersma, P. and Weenink, D. (2018): Praat: doing phonetics by computer [Computer program]. Version 6.0.37. Retrieved on March 14, 2018 <http://www.praat.org/>
- Peng, S., Chan, M. K. M., Tseng, C. Y., Huang, T., Lee, O. J. and Beckman, M. E. (2005) 'A Pan-Mandarin ToBI'. In S. Jun (ed.), *Prosodic Typology and Transcription: A Unified Approach*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Pickering, M. J. and Garrod, S. (2013) 'An integrated theory of language production and comprehension'. *Behavioral and Brain Sciences* 36: 329–392.
- Ramus, F., Nespor, M. and Mehler, J. (1999) 'Correlates of linguistic rhythm in the speech signal'. *Cognition* 73: 265–292.
- Shen, J. (1985) 'Pitch range of tone and intonation in Beijing dialect'. In T. Lin et al. (eds.), *Experimental Phonetic Study of Beijing Dialect*. Beijing: Beijing University Press.

- Shen, J. (1994) 'Hanyu yudiao gouzao he yudiao leixing [Structure and classification of Intonation in Chinese]'. *Fangyan* 3: 221–228.
- Shen, X. N. S. (1990) *The Prosody of Mandarin Chinese*. California: University of California Press.
- Saito, K., and Wu, X. (2014) 'Communicative focus on form and L2 suprasegmental learning: Teaching Cantonese learners to perceive Mandarin tones'. *Studies in Second Language Acquisition* 36: 647–680.
- Spada, N. (1997) Form-focused instruction and second language acquisition: A review of classroom and laboratory research. *Language Teaching* 29: 73–87.
- Spada, N. (2011) Beyond form-focused instruction: Reflections on past, present and future research. *Language Teaching* 44: 225–236.
- So, C. K.-L. (2003) 'Training non-native listeners to acquire Mandarin tones with visual and auditory feedback'. Paper presented at The WorldCALL Conference 2003. Banff, Alberta, Canada.
- So, C. K.-L. (2006) *Effects of L1 Prosodic Background and AV Training on Learning Mandarin Tones by Speakers of Cantonese, Japanese, and English*. PhD dissertation. Simon Fraser University.
- Trofimovich, P. (2016) 'Interactive alignment: A teaching-friendly view of second language pronunciation learning'. *Language Teaching* 49(3): 411–422.
- Tseng, C.-Y., Pin, S.-H., Lee, Y.-L., Wang, H.-M. and Chen, Y.-C. (2005) 'Fluent speech prosody: Framework and modeling'. *Speech Communication* 46: 284–309.
- Viger, T. L. (2007) *Fundamental Frequency in Mandarin Chinese and English: Implications for Second Language Speakers*. PhD dissertation. The City University of New York.
- Wang, J. (2003) *Rhythmic Grouping, Tone Sandhi and Stress in Beijing Mandarin*. PhD dissertation. Macquarie University.
- Wen, X. (2014) Pragmatic Development: An Exploratory Study of Requests by Learners of Chinese. In Z. Han (Ed.) *Second Language Acquisition of Chinese: A Series of Empirical Studies*. PP. 30–57.
- Wu, W. (2005) *On Chinese Prosodic Syntax*. Shanghai: Xuelin Press.
- Wu, Z. (1982) 'Tonal variations in Mandarin sentences'. *Chinese Linguistics*, 439–450.
- Wu, Z. (1996a) 'A new method of intonation analysis for Standard Chinese: Frequency transposition processing of phrasal contours in a sentence'. In G. Fant et al. (eds.). *Analysis, Perception and Processing of Spoken Language*. Elsevier Science B.V. (Originally appeared in RPR-IL/CASS, 1992–1993).
- Wu, Z. (1996b) 'Yuan-Ren Chao's contribution on the tonal study of Chinese'. *Journal of Tsinghua University* 27: 55–105.
- Xu, Y. (2005) 'Speech melody as articulatorily implemented communicative functions'. *Speech Communication* 46: 220–251.
- Xu, Y. (2011) 'Post-focus compression: Cross-linguistic distribution and historical origin'. In *The 17th International Congress of Phonetic Sciences*. Hong Kong, 152–155.
- Xu, Y., Chen, S.-W. and Wang, B. (2012) 'Prosodic focus with and without post-focus compression (PFC): A typological divide within the same language family?' *The Linguistic Review* 29: 131–147.
- Yang, C. (2013) 'Acquiring the pitch patterns of L2 Mandarin Chinese'. *Chinese as a Second Language Research* 2(2): 221–242.
- Yang, C. (2016) *The Acquisition of Second Language Mandarin Prosody: From Experimental Studies to Pedagogical Practice*. Amsterdam: John Benjamins Publishing Company.
- Yang, C. and Chan, M. K. M. (2010) 'The perception of Mandarin Chinese tones and intonation by American learners'. *Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association* 45(1): 7–36.
- Yang, C. and Chu, J. (2016) 'Testing rhythm metrics in L2 Chinese'. *Journal of Second Language Pronunciation* 2(2): 208–224.
- Yuan, J. (2004) *Intonation in Mandarin Chinese: Acoustic, Perception, and Computational Modeling*. PhD dissertation. Cornell University.

Teaching Chinese Pronunciation

Explanation, Expectation, and Implementation

Jiang Liu

Introduction

This chapter first provides an overview of research on second language speech perception and production. Some phonetic and phonological features of Chinese that create difficulties for the pronunciation of L2 learners whose L1 is non-tonal language are described. We then set out some typical pronunciation errors made by Chinese as Foreign Language (CFL) learners. The description of pronunciation learning outcomes in ACTFL (American Councils for Teaching Foreign Languages) and in the International Curriculum for Chinese Language Education (国际汉语教学通用课程大纲) are briefly summarized to provide teachers with guidelines to set up their expectations for students' pronunciation at different proficiency levels. The relationship between the logographic writing system in Chinese and how the language is pronounced is discussed, as the phonological knowledge of Chinese characters is a significant determining factor in enabling CFL learners to reach higher levels of proficiency. Finally, the practice of pronunciation teaching based on these research findings is discussed.

The Necessity of Teaching Pronunciation

As the shift from Audio-lingual language teaching to Communicative Language Teaching (CLT) progressed through the 1970s, in foreign-language classrooms the emphasis changed from repetition and correction to more contextualized and quasi-communicative activities. This trend occurred in response to the influence of Krashen's (1988) second language acquisition theory, which argues that comprehensible input in a meaningful context will help more than explicit rule-based instruction in terms of improving L2 learners' proficiency. The beginnings of CLT marked a general de-emphasis on pronunciation on the grounds that it was unteachable and that learners would acquire whatever skills they needed through simple exposure to the L2. A maximum use of the target language for classroom discourse was seen as desirable. A study abroad program was commonly considered to provide the best means of improving L2 learners' accent avoiding the effort involved in explicit pronunciation instruction. The increased exposure to L2 within the target language speaking environment was expected of itself to bring about improvements in pronunciation. However, research on the effectiveness of Length of Residence (LOR)

in a target language speaking country on improving L2 pronunciation has produced conflicting results. Oyama (1976) found no evidence that better accent scores among adult L2 learners could be predicted on the basis of greater LOR in the US. Purcell & Suter's study (1980), on the other hand, showed the opposite. Even studies based on the same speech phenomena yielded contradictory results. For example, Flege et al. (1995b) showed that Japanese speakers with longer-term residence in the US had performed better in the acquisition of English /ɪ/, while very similar research by Larson-Hall (2006) did not find any effect of LOR. It was pointed out that quantification of LOR could be an issue here as students vary in the type and frequency of interaction with native speakers of the target language even if they are immersed in the target language speaking community. Research also showed that receiving pronunciation instruction prior to study abroad led to students making greater gains in accuracy than where such instruction was not provided (Lord 2010). Such studies indicate that pronunciation teaching can offer an efficient means of improving students' pronunciation and increasing their confidence in communicating in the target language.

There is growing recognition that teaching pronunciation is necessary for students to be able to communicate in the target language more successfully. Unless proper attention is given to pronunciation there is a risk that students will overestimate their oral proficiency. This is because language instructors are usually sympathetic listeners to non-native speech and are able to make sense of L2 learners' speech in spite of a foreign accent. However, it does not mean that the same speech can be easily understood by native speakers of the target language who rarely listen to non-native speech. Therefore, raising L2 learners' awareness of their pronunciation accuracy from the beginning is likely to benefit them in the long run for them to succeed in real-life communication tasks. If the learners' L1 and L2 differ a lot, then instructors should provide more guidance to students highlighting the phonetic features of L2 so that it makes the learners notice those features at an early stage (Lightbown and Spada 1993). For CFL (Chinese as Foreign Language) learners whose native language is non-tonal language, more explicit instruction on pronunciation should be made because of the uniqueness of lexical tones in Chinese.

The Goal and Measurement of Pronunciation

The goal of pronunciation teaching should be increasing L2 learners' intelligibility and comprehensibility. Speech intelligibility and comprehensibility involve the accurate pronunciation or closeness to the standard pronunciation of a language. Generally speaking, segments and prosody are the two main linguistic levels involved in pronunciation. Accent is considered to be an indicator of a deviation of a speaker or a group of speakers from the standard pronunciation of a language. Fluency should be taken to mean the global mastering of the language in speaking. Table 12.1 summarizes some of those terms (Derwing and Munro 2015).

Although with different definitions, the terms in Table 12.1 are related to each other to a certain degree. For example, there exists partial independence between foreign accent and intelligibility. Namely, speakers with foreign accents do not necessarily fail to get their messages across effectively (Munro and Derwing 1995a).

The Relation Between Speech Perception and Production

The research on speech perception and production also has implications for pronunciation teaching. In the research on L2 speech learning, there has been a shift in the approach adopted from treating pronunciation errors as an object or language product to a process-oriented understanding of language learning. The former approach was represented by the Contrastive

Table 12.1 Some basic pronunciation terminology

<i>Term</i>	<i>Definition</i>	<i>Synonyms</i>
pronunciation	All aspects of the oral production of language including segments, prosody, voice quality, and rate	
segment	The individual vowels and consonants in the phonological inventory of a given language	speech sounds, phones
prosody	The aspects of speech that carry across an utterance: stress, intonation, rhythm	suprasegmentals
accent	A particular pattern of pronunciation that is perceived to distinguish members of different speech communities	different speech patterns, salient speech differences
intelligibility	The degree of match between a speaker's intended message and the listener's comprehension	actual understanding, comprehension
comprehensibility	The ease or difficulty a listener experiences in understanding an utterance	effort, processing difficulty
fluency	The degree to which speech flows smoothly without pauses and other dysfluency markers	

Source: Adapted from Derwing and Munro 2015

Analysis Hypothesis (CAH) first proposed by Lado (1957). The theory tried to explain L2 errors including pronunciation errors purely based on L1–L2 similarity and difference. However, the following study based on this framework found that the theory lacked strong predictive power. In the 1990s, the Perceptual Assimilation Model (PAM) proposed by Best (1995) and the Speech Learning Model (SLM) proposed by Flege et al. (1995a) called for attention to the development of L2 speech learning instead of making a generalization based on the comparison of L1 and L2 structural difference. The influence of both PAM and SLM remain present in today's research on L2 speech perception and production. Both models treat perception and production separately. PAM makes a prediction on the learning of L2 sound categories based on how those L2 sound categories are assimilated to L1 sound categories perceptually. Distinct L2 categories may be mapped onto two distinct L1 phonemes or merged into a single L1 category. Sometimes, certain L2 sounds may be uncategorized due to no similar categories existing in L1. In that case, learners may produce those uncategorized L2 sounds very well or very poorly (Best and Tyler 2007). In addition to the degree of assimilation, SLM takes into account the Age of Learning (AOL), Length of Residence (LOR), aptitude and a series of other factors trying to make a complete picture of L2 speech learning. Both models use the initial L2 sound categorization as the basis for predicting whether pronunciation of those sounds can be improved through increased exposure to L2.

On the basis of PAM and SLM it may be assumed that the pronunciation difficulty for CFL learners with different L1 backgrounds will differ. Tones and prosody will be a challenge for CFL learners whose L1 is a non-tonal language such as English, while it may not be a challenge for CFL learners whose L1 is a tonal language such as Thai or Vietnamese. For non-tone language L1 speakers, the four lexical tones in Mandarin Chinese cannot be mapped onto any L1 sound categories. Therefore they may distinguish the tone categories well in isolation, but when applied in continuous speech, the patterns start to vary. In general, the research has found Tone 2 (the tone with rising pitch) to be the most challenging tone for learners to perceive. There was no agreement on which tone was the most difficult for production. Also, researchers found a strong correlation between perception and production of Mandarin tones. Production

can benefit greatly from accurate perception (see Yang 2015 for an overview). In teaching L2 Chinese pronunciation, a brief but regular listening practice should be provided to CFL learners to enhance their perception of Mandarin tones. However, the focus can differ depending on the learners' L1 backgrounds. For example, more tone listening exercises for L1 non-tonal language speakers and more segment listening practice for L1 tonal language speakers.

Tones and Prosody in Mandarin Chinese

For CFL learners whose L1 is a non-tonal language such as native English speakers, certain segments (e.g. retroflexes zh [ʈʂ], ch [ʈʂʰ], sh [ʂ], r [ʐ]) are difficult to pronounce correctly at the early stage of learning. However, their pronunciation of these segments improves as learning progresses (e.g., Liu and Jongman 2013). The primary and persistent pronunciation errors for native speakers of non-tonal languages are caused by the tones and the prosody in L2 Chinese. The lexical tone adds a separate dimension in distinguishing meanings in Mandarin. Without correct tone pronunciation, the intelligibility of the speech is severely compromised.

The foreign accent foreign tone, known in Chinese as 洋腔洋调, mainly comes from the errors made in the prosodic domain (Yang 2013; Wang 1995; Wang 2006). In other words, the incorrect pronunciation of tones and intonation are the most striking pronunciation errors. Mandarin has four lexical tones which are Tone 1 (HH,¹ 55),² Tone 2 (MH, 35), Tone 3 (LH, 214), and Tone 4 (HL, 51). Mandarin as a tonal language does not have a complicated tone sandhi patterns³ as many other tonal languages. However, it still displays various tonal coarticulation. The most well-known tone sandhi in Mandarin is Tone 3 sandhi where T3 (low-dipping tone) changes to T2 (low rising tone) before another T3 (Duanmu 2007). Tone 3 sandhi is given in (1).

(1) Tone 3 sandhi: T3 T3◊T2 T3

- a. LL◊MH/____LL
- b. Example: nǐ hǎo 'hello' 你好 [ni]214 [hau]214◊[ni]35 [hau]214

Although Tone 3 sandhi is taught at the beginning of a Chinese course in most cases, students are often puzzled when more than two T3s are next to each other. For a disyllabic word with two T3s together, CFL learners usually do not have difficulty making Tone 3 sandhi. However, when a sequence of T3s appears in a word or longer sentence, then the tone sandhi patterns become complicated (see Lin 2007 for an overview). For example, the Tone 3 sandhi in (2a) and (2b) are different from the one in (2c).

(2) Tone 3 sandhi in different phrases

- a. lǐ yǒu yǒu jiǔ 'Li You has alcohol' 李友有酒
T3 T3 T3 T3◊T2 T3 T2 T3
- b. nǎ zhǒng jiǔ hǎo 'Which alcohol is good?' 哪种酒好
T3 T3 T3 T3◊T2 T3 T2 T3
- c. gěi lǐ yǒu mǎi 'buy (something) for Li You' 给李友买
T3 T3 T3 T3◊T3 T2 T2 T3

The different tone sandhi patterns given the same sequence of lexical tones show an interaction between the phonology and morphosyntax in Chinese. It is certainly not expected that this

type of complicated tone sandhi will be taught in Chinese class every time it is encountered. However, if instructors explain these tone sandhi patterns and their relation to the phrase and sentence structure at an early stage. It not only helps CFL learners understand the tone sandhi better, but also supports them in chunking speech in accordance with syntactic patterns.

Besides tone3 sandhi, some other typical tone changes in Mandarin involve T3 and T4 reduction, namely T3 and T4 are simplified or shortened when another tone follows them. Examples are given in (3) and (4).

(3) T3 reduction

- a. LH◊LL/____ another tone
- b. Example: lǎo wài ‘foreigner’ 老外 [lau]214 [wai]51◊[lau]21 [wai]51

(4) T4 reduction

- a. HL◊HM/____another tone
- b. Example: qì chē ‘automobile’ 汽车 [tɕʰi]51 [tɕʰə]55◊[tɕʰi]53 [tɕʰə]55

As shown in (3) and (4), when syllables occur with T3 and T4 at a word/phrase non-final position, the pitch range for the contour feature is narrowed. When T3 and T4 are at the word/phrase final position, the tones have a wider pitch range. Many CFL learners have difficulty in applying such positional variation of T3 and T4. If they produce tones, they may pronounce them with the same time duration as adjacent tones in words and phrases regardless of the position, thus making the speech sound unnatural. Tone reduction is not only related to the position in a polysyllabic word but is also related to focus and intonation type in the speech (Liu and Xu 2005).

Tonal coarticulation is another common phenomenon in Chinese. This is probably the most overlooked part of Chinese pronunciation teaching. When two or more tones are pronounced together there exists a tonal transition from one tone to the next. The tonal coarticulation is illustrated in Figure 12.1, which shows how the pitch of the tone in the third syllable is affected by the preceding tones so that the same tone in the third syllable has different pitch trajectories at the beginning of the syllable. For example, in (a), H (Tone 1) is preceded by four different tones respectively.⁴ When it is preceded by an H, the pitch track is a flat one from the second syllable into the third syllable. However, when an L precedes it the pitch track goes down towards the end of the second syllable and then starts to climb up in the third syllable. Therefore, the pitch trajectory of H is a flat one when it is preceded by an H while it becomes a rising one when an L precedes it.

Another pattern of tonal coarticulation can be seen in the way that sometimes the pitch range of certain syllables needs to be reset because of adjacent tones. In other words, the pitch height of one tone is not an absolute value. Instead, it is a pitch value with reference to other tones. For example, the pitch of a tone can be dragged down due to the low pitch of a preceding tone. The pitch of fēi jī ‘airplane’ in zhāng sān xǐ huān zuò fēi jī (张三喜欢坐飞机。 ‘Zhangsan likes taking a plane’.) is lower than fēi jī ‘airplane’ in zhāng sān zhōu yī zuò fēi jī (张周一坐飞机。 ‘Zhangsan takes plane on Monday’.) because the first fēi jī is preceded by L (Tone 3) in xǐ huān ‘like’ in the first sentence whereas the second fēi jī is preceded by H (Tone 1) in zhōu yī ‘Monday’. Here we can see how the low pitch of L dragged down the pitch height of the following H. This is called downstep (Xu 1999; Ladd 1996; Gussenhoven 2004). Downstep can also happen within a single word. The pitch height of one tone, in general, is lower than its preceding tone as the utterance goes. Some CFL learners often over-articulate tones as if they were pronounced in citation form, thus causing unnatural pitch fluctuation in speech.

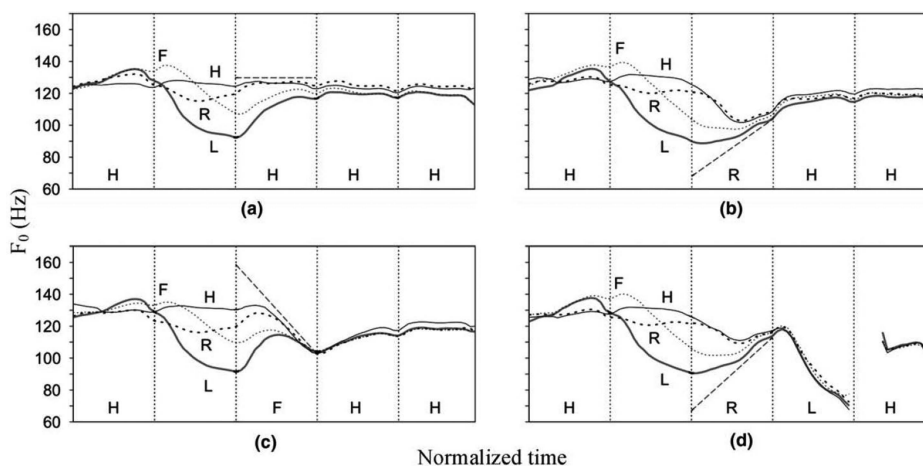


Figure 12.1 In (a)–(c) Mandarin H (Tone 1), R (Tone 2) and F (Tone 4) in syllable 3 are preceded by four different tones and followed by H. In (d), R in syllable 3 is followed by L. Vertical lines indicate syllable boundaries. The short dashed lines depict hypothetical underlying pitch targets. Plots from Xu 2005.

At the sentence level, when pronouncing a sentence (e.g. statement) the overall pitch declines from the beginning to the end. Thus, the pitch of the same tone will be lower later in the sentence relative to the one at the beginning of the sentence (Ladd 1996; Gussenhoven 2004). Researchers have found that sentence intonation's influence on the pronunciation of tones is more than the tone's influence on sentence intonation.⁵ However, the final tones in unmarked questions may influence the perception of question/statement judgment of the sentence (Yuan 2004; Yuan 2011; Shih 1988). Ton sandhi, tone reduction, tonal coarticulation, and tone-intonation interaction are four unique aspects of prosody in Chinese. Without instruction or demonstration, CFL learners rarely notice the tonal coarticulation, especially beginning level students. Many learners have shown a narrower pitch range or unnatural pitch transition between syllables causing strongly accented pronunciation (Shen 1990; Yang 2012). All this phonetic knowledge ideally can be taught in several lab sessions using software such as Praat to demonstrate these tone and prosodic patterns to students. As has been found more generally declarative knowledge is not the same as procedural knowledge. What is taught is not necessarily learned. In terms of pedagogy, therefore students need to have their attention drawn repeatedly to these features and also to be given the opportunity for further practice. Also, it is better to teach Chinese phonetics at the beginning of a Chinese course as many longitudinal studies have shown that adult L2 phonetic learning happened mostly during a short initial period after being immersed in an L2 environment (Piske et al. 2001; Derwing and Munro 2013; Derwing et al., 2006). Researchers hypothesized a Window of Maximal Opportunity (WMO) for adult L2 learners to improve their pronunciation, which is the early period of L2 learning. After WMO, L2 learners are unlikely to make further improvement on their pronunciation. Therefore, raising CFL learners' awareness of Chinese phonetics at an early stage is likely to benefit their pronunciation in the long term.

Pronunciation Errors in L2 Chinese

This section illustrates some typical pronunciation errors made by CFL learners. All the illustrations come from the author's observation and notes. In general, CFL learners do not have much

problem in perceiving and producing tones in a monosyllabic word. It is once learners start to pronounce tones in polysyllabic words, phrases or sentences that errors show up immediately (Wang 2006; Yang 2012; Guan 2000; Song 2009). One of the most typical pronunciation error made by non-tonal language speakers is the overuse of flat pitch for every tone. Figure 12.2. illustrates the pitch tracks produced by a beginning level CFL learner for the phrase *jiā dà hào de chèn shān* (加大号的衬衫 ‘extra large size shirt’). This learner enounced every character as shown by the approximately equal duration of those syllables including the particle ‘de’. However, the biggest problem was that the pitch she produced for F (Tone 4) in *dà hào* was flat with no fall in pitch. By listening and visualizing the student’s other recorded speech, it is clear she only occasionally produced a contour pitch. Most of the tones she produced were just level pitch.

The learners’ pinyin transcription in dictation tasks sometimes also shows a lack of awareness of tones. Below is a beginning level student’s pinyin transcription of words in a dictation.

(5) fei ji; di tie; gong gong qi che; song; ma fan

There is simply no tone when the student writes pinyin. However, surprisingly she got the initials (consonants) and finals (vowels) all correct. This is an extreme case of ignoring tones but this kind of toneless pinyin transcription is not uncommon among CFL learners. When they were asked why not write the tones some of them said they had difficulty memorizing them, some said they could not tell apart different tones, and some even said they did not know what exactly tone was. These revealing responses reflect the fact that without explicit and consistent instruction on the tones, fossilization may occur in students’ pronunciation from an early stage.

There is a considerable individual variability among CFL learners regarding pronunciation. An example of the individual differences is illustrated in Figure 12.3. The tonal coarticulation of Tone 1 and Tone 4 at the beginning of a phrase *zhōng hào de kù zi* (中号的裤子, ‘medium size

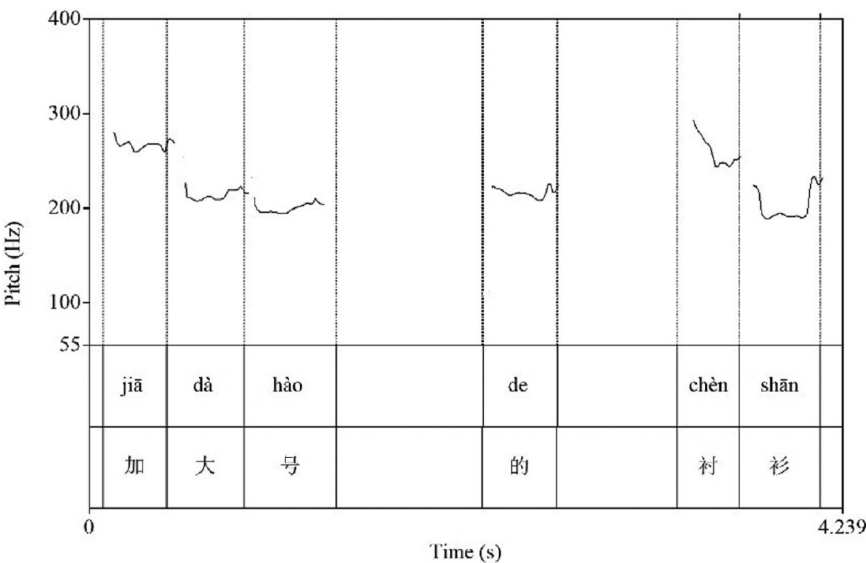


Figure 12.2 A beginning level CFL learner’s pronunciation of tones in a phrase where most tones are realized as flat pitch regardless of the underlying tone.

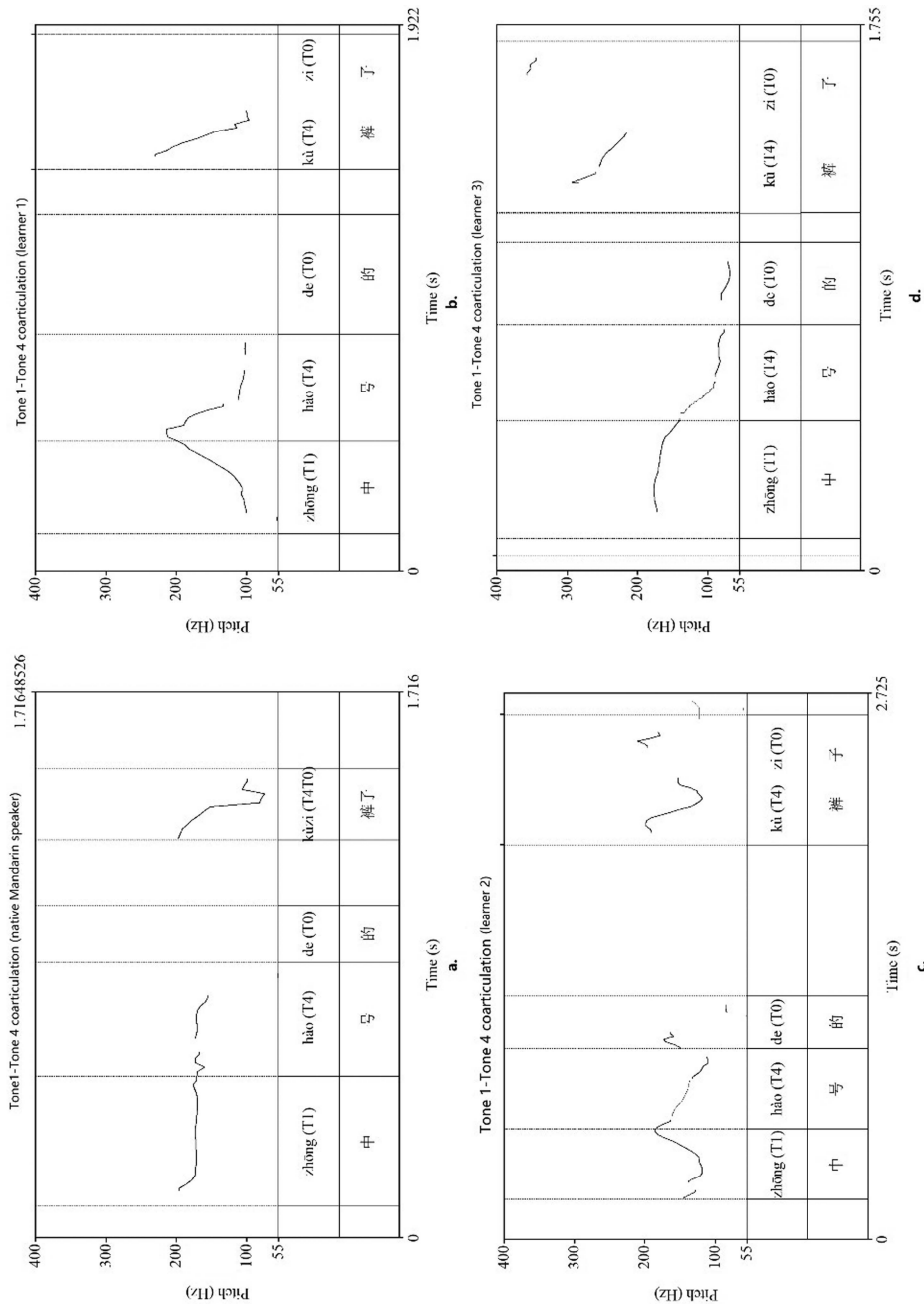


Figure 12.3 Pitch tracks of different tones produced by a native Mandarin speaker in (3a), three CFL learners at the beginning level in (3b), (3c), and (3d). Only learner 3 in (3d) produced Tone 1-Tone 4 coarticulation similar to the native speaker.

pant’) pronounced by a native Mandarin speaker’s pronunciation and three CFL learners at the beginner level are illustrated in (3a) to (3d) respectively.

In (3a), the native speaker’s production of T1–T4 sequence the pitch onset of T4 was about the same height as the pitch offset of the preceding T1. The pitch transition between T1 and T4 in (3a) was similar to (1c). In (3b) and (3c), Learner 1 and 2 pronounced T1 with a much lower pitch than the following T4. Thus, perceptually the T1 sounded more like T3 in the T1–T4 sequence. Also, the pitch range of T4 produced by Learner 1 and 2 was larger than the one produced by the native speaker shown by a steeper pitch fall in T4 in (3b) and (3c) compared with T4 in (3a). Such difference reflected that the learners were not aware of the Tone4 reduction at the non-final position. In (3d), Learner 3 set the overall pitch height of Tone1 higher than Tone4. In this way, perceptually it sounded more accurate as a T1–T4 sequence. However, the tonal coarticulation of T1–T4 produced by Learner 3 still did not look native-like as pitch onset of Tone 4 did not stay at the same height as its preceding Tone 1. Tone 4 was still pronounced with a sharp falling pitch. The T1–T4 sequence difference demonstrates how the manipulation of pitch varies among different CFL learners. There are many pronunciation error types in L2 Chinese. Errors in producing tonal sequences usually cause the speech to be perceived with a strong accent. It can sometimes undermine its comprehensibility. It is unclear at this point whether these tonal coarticulation errors are caused by misperception or inadequate application of the production skills. More research is needed for further understanding the phenomena.

The Impact of Logographic Writing on Chinese Pronunciation

Research has shown a strong correlation between pronunciation accuracy and written word recognition among CFL learners who are native English speakers (Everson 1998). Jiang (2008) replicated Everson (1998) and studied the correlation between pronunciation accuracy and written word recognition and he has found a strong correlation among CFL learners whose L1 is alphabetic language (e.g. native English speakers and native Indonesian speakers) but no correlation among learners whose L1 includes logographic writing such as native Japanese and Korean speakers. This study showed beginning level CFL learners of L1 alphabetic writing system relied more on pronunciation to recognize Chinese words compared with learners of L1 that includes logographic writing. Thus, there are strong grounds for providing pinyin for beginner-level CFL learners whose L1 does not use a logographic writing system. For CFL learners whose L1 uses an alphabetic writing system greater attention should be devoted to speaking and listening at the beginner level, whereas for learners whose L1 uses a logographic writing system (e.g. Japanese and Korean) equal emphasis can be given to spoken and written Chinese from the beginning. Some beginner-level CFL textbooks aimed at learners whose L1 uses an alphabetic writing system and which prioritize the development of spoken Chinese use pinyin primarily instead of Chinese characters (e.g. Zhao 2011; Kubler 2017).

Set the Expectation for Different Proficiency Levels

When ACTFL descriptors for different proficiency levels are compared with the International Curriculum for Chinese Language Education (国际汉语教学通用课程大纲) there is considerable overlap. However, the latter provides greater detail on the phonetic knowledge CFL learners should have at different proficiency levels. The phonetic knowledge for different levels is summarized in Table 12.2.

Table 12.2 Description of phonetic knowledge for L2 Chinese learners at different proficiency levels in the International Curriculum for Chinese Language Education (国际汉语教学通用课程大纲)

Level 1	1. Know the correct pronunciation of Pinyin; 2. Recognize the pronunciation of Chinese characters; 3. Understand Chinese is a tonal language with four lexical tones and toneless syllables.	Level 4	1. Master pinyin; 2. Can comprehend sentence meaning based on segments, intonation, and stress; 3. Can produce tones correctly and use tone sandhi and coarticulation in speaking. 4. Increased naturalness.
Level 2	1. Understand the importance of pronunciation; 2. Start to be familiar with tone sandhi patterns; 3. In general, pronunciation is correct in terms of phonetics and intonation in simple sentences.	Level 5	1. Start to understand prosody in Chinese; 2. Can use various prosodic features to convey various meanings in speaking; 3. Can understand Mandarin with a slight dialectal accent.
Level 3	1. Can read aloud unfamiliar words and sentences with the help of Pinyin; 2. Can understand utterances with tone sandhi or tonal coarticulation.	Level 6	1. Speak fluently and naturally; 2. Can fully understand prosody in Chinese; 3. Can understand Mandarin with a dialectal accent.

We can see starting from level 3, the expectation for pronouncing prosody correctly becomes higher and higher as CFL learners start to produce more complex sentences and discourse. Therefore, different content and focus should be given to CFL learners at different proficiency levels.

The Practice of L2 Chinese Pronunciation Teaching

In general research on perception and production of L2 speech has shown a strong correlation between the two. A better perception usually benefits production. The implication of this body of research for pronunciation teaching is that listening exercise can help improve pronunciation. Listening exercises for enhancing pronunciation differ from other listening comprehension tasks in that they aim to train L2 learners to perceive sound distinctions in different contexts. Effective classroom activities can include dictation cloze (listen for words with target sounds in sentences) and short dictation. Shadowing (imitation of a speech model simultaneously or slightly delayed) is also a good practice for pronunciation. One thing worth mentioning is that the teachers should help link features of speech with their communicative functions rather than presenting decontextualized or irrelevant material on the sound system. Levis and Grant (2003) gave examples of several activities that could be utilized in classes focusing on speaking and listening in context.

Perhaps the most common technique of pronunciation teaching is recast. Recast is one form of corrective feedback and it is implicit in nature (cf. Ellis et al. 2009). Research has shown the robust effect of corrective feedback. The interactionists (Gass 1997; Long 2007) acknowledge the importance of positive evidence, but in the meantime maintain that negative evidence afforded through interactional feedback can help the learner to notice the gap between his/her non-target like L2 production and the target form and make appropriate adjustment. Thus the effect of corrective oral feedback has been extensively studied. The following summary of findings is provided by Li (2010): (a) Recasts are the most frequent feedback type in the classroom (Lyster and Ranta 1997) (b) recasts facilitate SLA (Han 2002); (c) different types of feedback

have differential impact on SLA—explicit feedback is more effective than implicit feedback (Ellis et al. 2006) and prompts work better than recasts (Ammar and Spada 2006) and (d) the occurrence of uptake varies in different contexts (Lyster and Mori 2006) and is constrained by the characteristics of feedback (Loewen and Philp 2006). In practice, the corrective feedback needs to make the errors clear and stressed to the students. This aspect is often overlooked by teachers. In practice corrective feedback needs to make the errors clear and must also be strongly emphasized by the teacher. Thus, students cannot easily understand why the teacher repeated what s/he just said. Good practice would be to repeat the part of the utterance that has been corrected or to provide a prompt to elicit the correct response from the student. Another good practice when providing corrective feedback is to take every opportunity to demonstrate how incorrect pronunciation can undermine intelligibility of speech in a communicative task. For example, English-speaking learners of L2 Chinese often pronounce tones incorrectly. Among those tone errors, some carry more gravity than others causing poorer intelligibility. An anecdote from the author's own classroom experience illustrates the point, namely when the podium in the classroom stopped working. The author asked the students in the class to tell him the phone number of the IT office in Chinese as the students had already learned the numbers in Chinese. One student shouted out: *bā liǎng sān qī qī qī sì sān liǎng liǎng*. Fortunately, before dialing the number the author confirmed with the student whether the number was 823-777-4322 in English as the author, as a sympathetic listener, interpreted 'liǎng' (in fact, the combination of the syllable 'liang' and tone 1 does not exist in Mandarin) as the word 两 meaning two. The student replied in English that what she was trying to say was 803-777-4300. The digit 0 in Chinese should be 'líng'. Thus, the student made pronunciation errors for both the segment and tone. Having understood what the student was trying to say, the author immediately corrected the student's pronunciation error and asked her to repeat. By doing this, it made the whole class aware of the importance of tones in Chinese and showed why incorrect pronunciation of tones can cause miscommunication. Mispronunciation of this type demonstrates how the similarity of two morphemes in Chinese can potentially cause pronunciation errors. Research has shown the prior phonological knowledge emerged from previously learned vocabulary and syllable frequency can affect L2 Chinese learners' new word learning (Liu and Wiener 2018). It is possible that the higher frequency of the word 两 'two' interferes the retrieval of the pronunciation of the low frequency of the word 零 'zero' when it is pronounced in a sequence of syllables.

One limitation of corrective feedback for pronunciation teaching is that the time instructors can spend on correcting an individual student's pronunciation errors is quite limited in a class time period. Therefore, to maximize students' pronunciation practice the teacher should assign recording homework to students. The formats of the recording homework can vary from reading aloud tasks to picture description, narration or open-ended questions. To make the recording homework more efficient, a pronunciation clinic should accompany the recording homework for instructors to provide oral feedback to students by listening to pronunciation errors together with students. Using speech software such as Praat⁶ it makes the visualization of speech possible. Teaching Mandarin tones in a way is similar to teaching music notes. By comparing their pronunciation to the pitch tracks produced by native speakers, learners can realize the difference between their pronunciation and standard pronunciation. By presenting the pitch of tone sequences visually to students it can make them more aware of tonal coarticulation. To make recording homework more manageable, tools like VoiceThread⁷ can be used to allow students to submit their recordings to a centralized platform. From there instructors can grade all the recordings under a single webpage. All the uploaded audio files created by the students can then be downloaded and used for the pronunciation class.

As learners make advancement in proficiency, the pronunciation of larger elements in a discourse should become the focus. In other words, students need to pay more attention to speech style, appropriateness, pragmatics, communicative strategies and so on. The best way to teach this knowledge is to videotape advanced-level learners' interactions with a native speaker in an oral proficiency interview (OPI). Later the teacher can play the video to the learners and guide the learners on how to pace their speaking, find alternative ways to deliver a message, etc.

Finally, due to China's increasing economic and geopolitical influence worldwide, CFL learners are tending to show a much more serious attitude towards learning the Chinese language. More and more state universities in North America are introducing a Chinese major. To train CFL learners to reach a high proficiency level, it is necessary to train students to make a habit of learning Chinese characters. Cognitive restructuring is needed to make the sound-writings-meaning association for CFL learners as the Chinese characters do not provide any information about pronunciation. Some cognitive models of Chinese character learning have been proposed (Shen 2008; Wang 2005). Phonological knowledge of Chinese characters can help students know the pronunciation of newly encountered disyllabic words or multi-syllabic words. It assists the memorization of the new words with known pronunciation. Also, instructors should direct students' attention to the pronunciation of high-frequency characters and the phonetic part (声旁) in those Chinese characters. This is to prepare students to recognize the pronunciation of Chinese words with the help of Chinese characters. In Chinese, 1,500 characters cover over 95 percent of the words in Chinese written publications and about 80 percent of Chinese characters are semantic-phonetic compound characters (形声字) (Duanmu 2007). Therefore, mastering the pronunciation of these high-frequency characters and phonetic parts will facilitate students' learning of new Chinese words. At the beginning stage of learning, pinyin should be provided as much as possible to CFL learners to enhance their association of the pronunciation with the characters. As learning progresses, the memorized high-frequency characters and phonetic parts should be the reference learners use to memorize pronunciation of the new vocabulary. There should be a transition from pinyin-based to character-based pronunciation teaching.

Pronunciation Teaching Model

Based on what have been discussed, we propose a pronunciation teaching model that includes both decontextualized and contextualized practice for training students' pronunciation as illustrated in Figure 12.4.

The decontextualized elements such as tone identification and shadowing tasks are aimed at improving students' sensitivity to Mandarin tones without any contextual clues. This can be considered as low-level perceptual training and practice of motor control of articulators. Perceptual training of tones is strongly recommended for beginner-level learners. On the other hand, in class teachers can use recast, prompt or communicative tasks such as role-play to teach pronunciation. Videotaping students' conversation with a native speaker is strongly recommended for advanced-level learners as they need to develop communicative strategies to express their personal meanings. Other elements such as listening exercise, recording homework and computer-assisted instruction on pronunciation can be a mixture of decontextualized and contextualized practice depending on the content in those elements. Teachers can use either learned or new vocabulary, familiar or unfamiliar scenarios, reading aloud or storytelling tasks and so forth to assign those tasks to students as homework or in-class activities. Those tasks should neither be too boring nor too challenging for the learners.

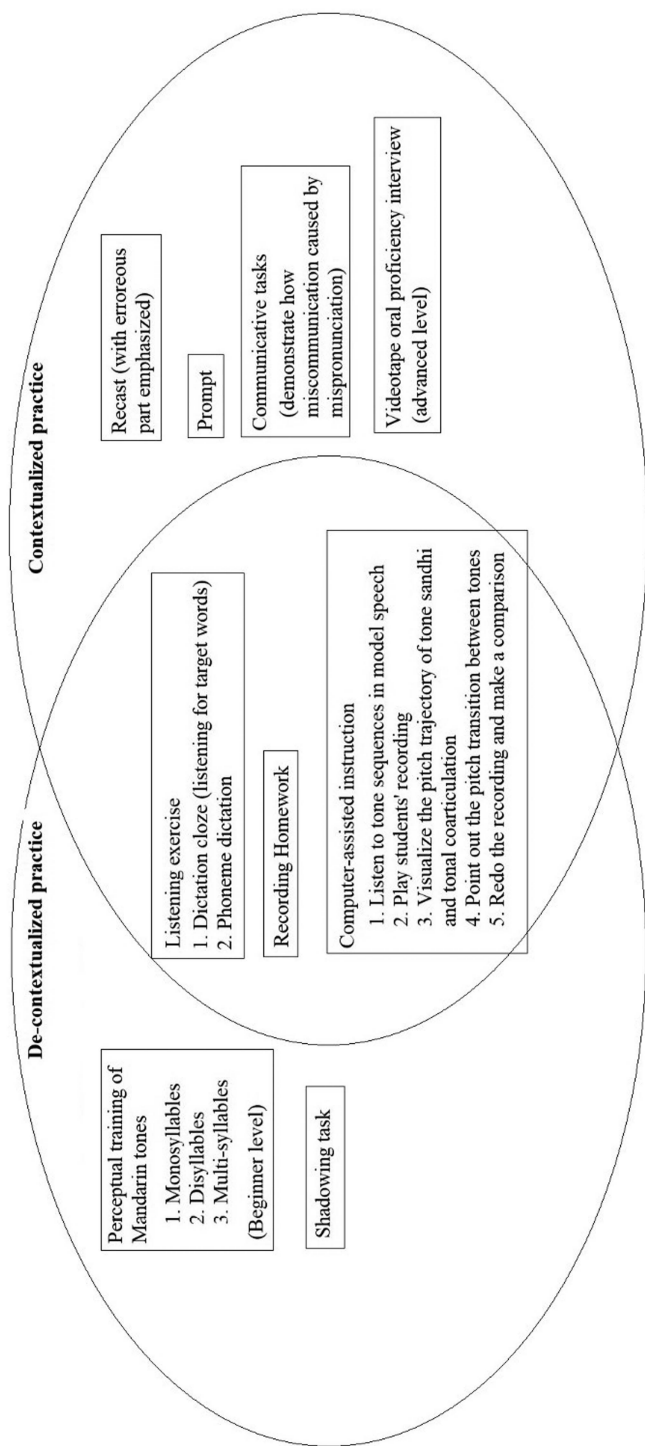


Figure 12.4 A pronunciation teaching model that consists of decontextualized and contextualized practices. Certain element is recommended for specific proficiency level as indicated in the brackets.

Conclusion

To teach pronunciation in the L2 classroom, teachers should have some basic knowledge about speech perception and production. That will help them understand some of the reasons why pronunciation errors occur. Having this knowledge will help teachers practice pronunciation teaching and understand the ideas behind that practice. But to better teach pronunciation, ideally, there should be some professional development opportunities provided for instructors. Otherwise it may be difficult for them to access resources on teaching pronunciation. Good practice of pronunciation teaching should incorporate the exercises in a meaningful communicative scenario with the assistance of technology. Although teaching pronunciation of foreign languages, in general, is not an easy task, researchers and teachers are still trying hard to develop an effective way of providing pronunciation training. The conference on Pronunciation in Second Language Learning and Teaching (PSLLT) is one of the efforts that specifically focuses on pedagogical aspects of pronunciation.

Notes

- 1 To represent tone in formal way, phonologists use H for High tone, M for Mid tone, and L for Low tone.
- 2 A five point scale is used to mark pitch value of tones in Chinese (Chao 1968).
- 3 Tone sandhi describes phonetically conditioned morphotonic alternations at the juncture of words or morphemes (Chen, 2000).
- 4 For purposes of illustration, the graph overlays the pitch tracks of four different tones in the second syllable.
- 5 Sentence or utterance intonation is realized as languages use pitch variation contrastively for the expression of discourse meaning and for marking phrases (Gussenhoven 2005).
- 6 Praat official website: www.fon.hum.uva.nl/praat/
- 7 VoiceThread usually is subscribed by a university and embedded in platforms such as Blackboard, Moodle, Canvas, etc. See the website at: <https://voicethread.com/myvoice/>

References

English References

- Ammar, A., & Spada, N. (2006). ONE SIZE FITS ALL?: Recasts, Prompts, and L2 Learning. *Studies in Second Language Acquisition*, 28(4), 543–574.
- Best, C. T. (1995) 'A direct realist view of cross-language speech perception'. In W. Strange (ed.), *Speech Perception and Linguistic Experience: Issues in Cross-Language Research*, 171–204. York: York Press.
- Best, C. T. and Tyler, M. D. (2007) 'Nonnative and second-language speech perception: Commonalities and complementarities'. In O.-S. B. M. J. Munro (ed.), *Language Experience in Second Language Speech Learning*, 13–34. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Chao, Y. R. (1968) *A Grammar of Spoken Chinese*. Berkeley: University of California Press.
- Chen, Y. M. (2000) *Tone Sandhi: Patterns across Chinese Dialects*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Derwing, T. and Munro, M. (2015) *Pronunciation Fundamentals. Evidence-based perspectives for L2 Teaching and Research*. Amsterdam: John Benjamins Publishing Company.
- Derwing, T. M. and Munro, M. J. (2013) 'The development of L2 oral language skills in two L1 groups: A 7-year study'. *Language Learning* 63(2): 163–185.
- Derwing, T. M., Thomson, R. I. and Munro, M. J. (2006) 'English pronunciation and fluency development in Mandarin and Slavic speakers'. *System* 34(2): 506–516.
- Duanmu, S. (2007) *The Phonology of Standard Chinese*, 2nd edn. Oxford University Press.
- Ellis, R. (2006). 'Modelling learning difficulty and second language proficiency: The differential contributions of implicit and explicit knowledge.' *Applied Linguistics* 27 (3): 431–463.

- Ellis, R., Lowewen, S., Elder, C., Erlam, R., Philp, J. and Reinders, H. (2009) *Implicit and Explicit Knowledge in Second Language Learning, Testing and Teaching*. Bristol, Buffalo and Toronto: Multilingual Matters.
- Everson, E. M. (1998) 'Word recognition among learners of Chinese as a foreign language: Investigating the relationship between naming and knowing pinyin'. *The Modern Language Journal* 82(2): 194–204.
- Flege, J., Munro, J. M. and MacKay, A. (1995a) 'Factors affecting strength of perceived foreign accent in a second language'. *Journal of the Acoustical Society of America* 97(5): 3125–3134.
- Flege, J. E., Takagi, N. and Mann, V. (1995b) 'Japanese adults can learn to produce English /I/ and /I/ accurately'. *Language and Speech* 38(1): 25–55.
- Gass, S. M. (1997) *Input, Interaction, and the Second Language Learner*. New Jersey: Mahwah.
- Gussenhoven, C. (2004) *Phonology of Tone and Intonation*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Han, Z-H. (2002) A study of the impact of recasts on tense consistency in L2 output. *TESOL Quarterly*, 36(4), 543–72.
- Krashen, S. D. (1988) *Second Language Acquisition and Second Language Learning*. New Jersey: Prentice-Hall International.
- Kubler, C. C. (2017) *Basic Mandarin Chinese: Speaking & Listening*. Singapore: Tuttle Publishing.
- Ladd, R. (1996) *Intonational Phonology*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Lado, R. (1957) *Linguistics Across Cultures*. Ann Arbor: University of Michigan.
- Larson-Hall. (2006) 'What does more time buy you? Another look at the effects of long-term residence on production accuracy of English /r/ and /l/ by Japanese speakers'. *Language and Speech* 49(4): 521–548.
- Levis, J. M. and Grant, L. (2003) 'Integrating pronunciation into ESL/EFL classrooms'. *TESOL Journal* 12(2): 13–19.
- Li, S. F. (2010) 'The effectiveness of corrective feedback in SLA: A meta-analysis'. *Language Learning* 60(2): 309–365.
- Lightbown, P. and Spada, N. (1993) *How Are Languages Learned*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Lin, Y.-H. (2007) *The Sounds of Chinese*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Liu, F. and Xu, Y. (2005) 'Parallel encoding of focus and interrogative meaning in mandarin intonation'. *Phonetica* 62: 70–87.
- Liu, J. and Jongman, A. (2013) 'American Chinese learners' acquisition of L2 Chinese affricates /ts/ and /tsh/'. *Proceedings of Meetings on Acoustics (POMA)*. 164th Meeting of the Acoustical Society of America.
- Liu, J. and Wiener, S. (2018) *Effects of Prior Phonological and Statistical Knowledge on L2 Chinese Word Learning*. Montreal: Second Language Research Forum.
- Long, M. H. (2007) *Problems in SLA*. Mahwah, NJ: Erlbaum.
- LOEWEN, S. and PHILP, J. (2006), Recasts in the Adult English L2 Classroom: Characteristics, Explicitness, and Effectiveness. *The Modern Language Journal*, 90: 536–556.
- Lord, G. (2010) 'The combined effects of immersion and instruction on second language pronunciation'. *Foreign Language Annals* 43(3): 488–503.
- Lyster, R., & Ranta, L. (1997). Corrective feedback and learner uptake: Negotiation of form in communicative classrooms. *Studies in Second Language Acquisition*, 19(1), 37–66.
- Lyster, R., & Mori, H. (2006). INTERACTIONAL FEEDBACK AND INSTRUCTIONAL COUNTERBALANCE. *Studies in Second Language Acquisition*, 28(2), 269–300.
- Munro, M. and Derwing, M. T. (1995) 'Foreign accent, comprehensibility, and intelligibility in the speech of second language learners'. *Language Learning* 45(1): 73–97.
- Oyama, S. (1976) 'A sensitive period for the acquisition of a nonnative phonological system'. *Journal of Psycholinguistic Research* 5(3): 261–283.
- Piske, T., Flege, J. E. and MacKay, I. R. (2001) 'Factors affecting degree of foreign accent in an L2: A review'. *Journal of Phonetics* 29(2): 191–215.
- Purcell, E. T. and Suter, R. W. (1980) 'Predictors of pronunciation accuracy: A re-examination'. *Language Learning* 30(2): 271–287.
- Shen, X. -N. (1990) 'Tonal coarticulation in Mandarin'. *Journal of Phonetics* 8: 281–295.
- Shih, C. (1988) 'Tone and intonation in Mandarin'. *Working Papers of the Cornell Phonetics Laboratory* 3: 83–109.

- Xu, Y. (1999) 'Effects of tone and focus on the formation and alignment of F0 contours'. *Journal of Phonetics* 27: 55–105.
- Xu, Y. (2005). Speech melody as articulatorily implemented communicative functions. *Speech Communication* 46: 220–251.
- Yang, B. (2015) *Perception and Production of Mandarin Tones by Native Speakers and L2 Learners*. Heidelberg: Springer.
- Yang, C. S. (2013) 'Acquiring the pitch patterns of L2 Mandarin Chinese'. *Chinese as a Second Language Research* 2(2): 221–242.
- Yuan, J. (2004) *Intonation in Mandarin Chinese acoustics, Perception and Computational Modeling*. Dissertation. Cornell University.
- Yuan, J. (2011) 'Perception of intonation in Mandarin Chinese'. *The Journal of the Acoustical Society of America* 130(6): 4063–4069.

Chinese References

- Guan, J. 关键. (2000) '声调教学初探' (Investigate the teaching of lexical tones). 语言教学与研究 (Language Pedagogy and Research) 4: 78–86.
- Jiang, X. 江新. (2008) 对外汉语字词与阅读学习研究 (Research on Teaching Literacy and Reading in CFL). 北京大学出版社 Beijing: (Peking University Press).
- Shen, H. H. 沈禾玲 (2008) Cognitive theories and their application in Chinese vocabulary instruction 认知理论及其在汉语作为二语的字词教学中的应用. *Studies of Chinese Characters*[中国文字研究] 10(1): 149–158.
- Song, Y. D. 宋益丹. (2009) '对外汉语声调教学策略探索' (Investigation of teaching of lexical tones in CFL). 语言教学与研究 (Language Pedagogy and Research) 3: 48–53.
- Wang, A. H. 王安红. (2006) '汉语声调教学研究' (Research on teaching of Mandarin tones). 语言教学与研究 (Language Pedagogy and Research) 6: 70–75.
- Wang, J. Q. 王建勤. (2005) '外国学生汉字构形意识发展模拟研究' (The cognitive model of CFL learners' knowledge of Chinese characters). 语言文字应用 (Applied Philology) 4: 32–46.
- Wang, Y. J. 王韞佳. (1995) 也谈美国人学汉语声调 (Revisit to American students' learning of Mandarin tones). 语言教学与研究 (Language Pedagogy and Research) 3: 126–140.
- Zhao, J. M. 赵金铭. (2011) 初级汉语教学的有效途径--“先语后文”辩证 (Efficient way of teaching elementary Chinese-discussion of 'speech before text' pedagogy. 世界汉语教学 (Chinese Teaching in the World) 25(3): 367–387.

Recognition of Two Forms of Characters and Teaching Literary Chinese

Joseph R. Allen¹

Recognition of Two Forms

When a student takes the American Council Reading Test for modern Chinese, which is one of the three exams used for entrance into the Chinese Flagship Capstone Year (and also used to certify the student's proficiency at the end of that year) he or she has a choice to take the exam in simplified or full-form (traditional) characters.² Yet, no matter with which preferred form they begin, if they reach the Advanced (ILR2) level, the exam then starts to introduce texts in the non-preferred form. At the Superior (ILR3) level (the goal of the Flagship program), students are expected to handle each form with equal recognition skills. That examination experience is a mirror of how these two forms are often encountered in one's pursuit of Chinese language study and in actual lived experience.

If one wishes to pursue any in-depth form of Chinese studies then it is necessary to have a working knowledge (that is recognition skills) of both full-form and simplified. The reasons for being able to read simplified forms are self-evident: almost every document produced in the People's Republic of China has been in simplified characters, and for most students this is their area of interest. Yet even if one works in an old, conservative field of study, such as paleography or early archaeology, scholarship on that topic coming from China since 1952 is printed in simplified characters, although full-form and other script types might be included in the materials. As for the necessity of knowing full-form characters, the two most obvious reasons are 1) to access any document, (from school books to imperial archives) printed or written before 1952, and 2) to use any materials originating in Sinophone regions outside the PRC, especially Taiwan and Hong Kong.

Practical Applications of Full-Form Characters

Learning full-form characters would be necessary to access much of the Sinophone materials, including historical and contemporary documents. One cannot work in the global economies of East Asia or in the world of Chinese intelligence without knowing full-form characters. Moreover, engagement of electronic entertainment from Taiwan or Hong Kong, which will be in, or subtitled with, full-form characters, requires similar skills. This is also true for many

newspapers and other media in the United States and the United Kingdom. There are certain conditions where both full-form and simplified characters are used simultaneously, such as at tourist sites in Taiwan where documents appear in simplified characters (as well as in Japanese and English).

In addition, and this might be a growing trend, there are certain venues and occasions in the People's Republic of China (PRC) where full-form characters are still being used, or are being re-introduced. These are usually sites of prestige, including many examples of calligraphy or inscriptions on paintings, historic signs (such as the ones in the Forbidden City) even when painted anew. In addition, some pre-1952 texts have recently been released in facsimile editions, such as middle-school Chinese literature textbooks from the 1930s. The 'Best of Old Textbooks' series (*Laokeben jingxuan* 老課本精選) has reproduced five textbooks from the 1930s, as well as the 1914 classic *Gongheguo jiaokeshu guowen* 共和國教科書國文, all of which are facsimiles of both text and illustrations—Deng Kangyan (2011) has a recent study of these types of reprints. According to the 'Best of' editors:

These old textbooks will lead children to be attuned to the wisdom that educates everyone, they will lead children to ponder the beauty of traditional *guowen* 國文 [national literature], and they will allow your child to absorb new vocabulary and write compositions following these examples! *Shangwu xinxuezhishi jiaokeshu*

Of course, this new vocabulary will all be in full-form characters.

Some store and restaurant signs in China still use the full-form characters: for example the *Laofengxiang yinlou* 老鳳祥銀樓 Jewelry and Stationery store on Nanjing Road in Shanghai has all its external signage, as well as its stylized logo, in full-form characters—both *feng* and *lou* have simplified forms, and in other sites the store's name uses these simplified characters. Business cards in China are another place where one sometimes sees full-form characters—cards might be had in both forms, but used for different occasions.

Reading Traditional Literature

Needless to say, anyone working with materials written in Literary Chinese (see the following section) from any time (yes, the language is still 'alive' in many areas of contemporary life) the likelihood of encountering full-form characters is greatly increased. There are materials, such as textbooks and modern editions from the PRC, where Literary Chinese appears in simplified forms, but these are relatively rare.³ The most important textbook of this period, Wang Li's 王力 1962 *Gudai hanyu* 古代漢語 (discussed below) is entirely in full-form characters. Even during the Cultural Revolution, full-form characters remained in use. This is especially true for the reprinting of literary classics. While the 1957 Renmin wenxue chubanshe publication of the Cao Xueqin's 曹雪芹 *Honglou meng* 紅樓夢 (Dream of the red chamber) was converted to simplified characters, the 1972 Zhonghua shuju publication of the Sima Qian's 司馬遷 *Shiji* 史記 (Record of the historian) retained full-form characters, even in the contemporary paratextual materials. And that was true for all of Zhonghua shuju subsequent editions of later official histories (*zhengshi* 正史). Moreover, all of these texts were printed vertically, from right to left. Clearly these two texts, *Honglou meng* and *Shiji*, represent the far ends of the spectrum of Chinese classical narrative texts, but they are icons of their genres and well known to the population as a whole. Classical poetic texts are especially susceptible to reproduction in full-form characters and in traditional formats: the Zhonghua shuju's 1979 publication of Guo Maoqian's 郭茂倩 *Yuefu shiji* 樂府詩集 (Collection of music bureau poems), their 1983 edition of Wang Yi's 王逸 *Chuci*

buzhu 楚辭補注 (Annotated elegies of Chu), and their 1991 *Shijing zhuxi* 詩經注析 (Analyzed Book of Songs) are all in full-form characters and traditional formats. Sometimes this reaches odd formulations, such as Gaodeng jiaoyu chubanshe's 2008 elegantly produced *Shijing* 詩經 (Book of songs) with traditional stitched bindings, different types of heavy stock papers, bi-color printing, and color plates front and back (somewhat illogically being a silk painting from state of Chu 楚, upon which are printed quotations from the *Lunyu* 論語 in full-form characters). Despite these samplings of premodern motifs, the contents of the anthology are all in simplified characters and horizontal lines, including a vernacular translation of each poem.

In Summary

Thus we can see that anyone who wishes to pursue Chinese studies beyond the contemporary surfaces, and sometimes even there, must be able to read both simplified and full-form characters. To fail to do so is to limit one's opportunities in the field of Chinese studies and various professions using Chinese language. For the student who first learns full-form characters, the learning of the simplified form comes with relative ease. Although the reverse process is somewhat more difficult, it is hardly insurmountable. With the new instruments of electronic production and reading of Chinese script, this cross-form learning is even more efficient. How one teaches the writing of Chinese with these new media is the subject of another chapter, but certainly those new learning environments have lessened the time (and often drudgery) of old pedagogies.

Literary Chinese in Vernacular Discourse

Any student of Chinese as a second language who aspires to the advanced level of modern standard Chinese will also need at least a basic working knowledge of Literary Chinese. This is because Literary Chinese (described below) infiltrates many sites of modern Chinese, especially in texts of a heightened level of discourse: government documents, academic articles, official announcements, formal invitations, and particularly any document in contact with the legal world. Although elevated discourse in almost any modern language will be infused with its literary antecedents, such as Latin, Middle English, Persian, and Sanskrit, the nature of the Chinese script allows for much more of that traffic between the two languages (or intra-languages). So we first need to clarify how the nature of the written Chinese languages encourages that traffic.

Chinese language, like any other, has evolved over the centuries, creating both diachronic and geographic divergences. In fact, Victor Mair (1991) believes that the various Chinese 'dialects', which he terms 'topolects', are in fact often separate languages, just as are Italian and Spanish.⁴ That may be true, but there is a critical difference in that there are many more 'homonyms' between the written topolects of China than between the languages of Europe; this is true for even the most disparate of the Chinese topolects, such as Cantonese and Mandarin. The critical difference is that while the spoken languages differ dramatically, their written forms (at the graph level) have been relatively stable for two millennia. Since the Han dynasty, with the standardization of the script system, the basic grapheme for 'bovine' was then and is now written 牛, however you pronounce it—there was no written *cu*, *cuu*, *cuve*, *ku*, *cow*, *cowe*, *cow* phenomenon. So while Literary Chinese, in its various forms, differs significantly from the modern topolects, it is written with many of the same graphemes, and this allows the two languages to converge more easily than in other linguistic environments. This produces innumerable instances of elevated language in which Literary Chinese provides that sense of heightened discourse, and does so in an relatively unmarked fashion—unlike the common italicization of Latin or French phrases in English, for example. Thus, in Lu Xun's most famous short story, 'Madman', the opening

paragraphs are written in Literary Chinese as a parody of the form itself. And when the madman speaks it is often riddled with classical phrasing. If a student reads Lu Xun without due attention to this literary language, whether elevated or parodied, one misses much of why Lu Xun is great.⁵ And if one wants to follow the nuances of Xi Jinping's thought, then an ability to read Literary Chinese will be useful.⁶

Teaching Literary Chinese

There is a wide range of motives for students to study Literary Chinese, from those students who are dedicated to advanced classical studies to those who just want to be able to read a daily newspaper more efficiently. And there are several pedagogical strategies that can be mobilized to teach Literary Chinese to the L2 Chinese learner. Most involve both ideological as well as practical considerations. I will review these different approaches and introduce standard textbooks suited for a given approach. Briefly this will include two basic approaches. 1) The first approach is found in volumes whose paratextual materials (vocabulary, grammar notes, etc.) are entirely in the native language of the student (for this chapter, I will review English materials). Within this category, there will also be two variants: a) primary materials are fully authentic, whether from one source or selections from different sources; and b) texts include 'imitation' of early materials—that is, written in Literary Chinese but only for pedagogical purposes. 2) The second type of textbook is where Literary Chinese is taught through the use of modern Chinese paratextual materials. Those also come in two types: a) those for the native speaker and b) those for the Chinese L2 learner. One issue that is of special interest is whether L2 students of Japanese and Korean languages can be accommodated with these textbooks, or whether they need to learn Sino-Japanese and Sino-Korean separately.

Textbooks with English Paratextual Support

An extreme version of the authentic materials with non-Chinese paratextual support (above, type 1.a) was the method employed by Father Paul Serruys at the University of Washington. The textbook was a standard edition of the *Mengzi zhengyi* 孟子正義 (1967) and the paratextual materials were Father Serruys' meticulous grammatical analysis, which would often involve citation of numerous examples from a variety of Chinese sources. As far as I can remember, Father Serruys did not provide any paratextual materials other than his erudite readings and blackboard notes. At the same time, Alvin Cohen, a classmate of Father Serruys under Peter Boodberg, developed a very different version of this approach. He used authentic materials but he was extremely selective, working from the simplest of phrases, such as dictionary definitions, to longer passages, with each selection chosen and grouped with like ones to teach a certain grammatical pattern. These were put together in a mimeographed 'textbook', which was supplemented by his *Grammar Notes for Introductory Classical Chinese* (1975). Cohen encouraged students of various Chinese topolects and Japanese to take his class. While Father Serruys provided all the readings/translation of the Mencius text (again in a rather traditional format), Professor Cohen had the students read (in topolect or Japanese if that were their L2) and translate each phrase or passage into English. He would then provide grammatical information as necessary.

Codification

Various textbooks have since codified these approaches by coordinating authentic materials with extensive paratextual English materials. Below I will review the most recent and commonly

used of these texts, but we should first consider the grandfather of all Literary Chinese textbooks for the L2 student, Harold Shadick's *A First Course in Literary Chinese* (1968). In three volumes, totaling almost 1,500 pages, it sets a very high bar for thoroughness. The three volumes are: Texts, Vocabularies, and Commentaries. In most cases, this is more than any student, even those most avid Sinophile, needs; experience suggests that most students do not even look at volume 3, finding the paratextual materials in volumes 1 and 2 more than adequate for their needs—in fact, Cornell University Press currently only offers volumes 1 and 2 for sale.⁷

Shadick's volumes comprise 34 lessons, primarily in chronological order, from the standard classics (*Mengzi* 孟子, *Zhuangzi* 莊子, *Shiji* 史記, etc.) to modern essays by Liang Qichao 梁啟超 and Hu Shi 胡適. He begins, however, with four lessons taken from an 1904 elementary school Literary Chinese textbook (*Chudeng xiaoxue guowen jiaokeshu* 初等小學國文教科書) and one passage from *Mengzi*, which have been edited for simplicity and clarity. The inclusiveness of textual materials, especially the selections from the twentieth century, is one marker of the special nature of the Shadick's text. There are extensive vocabularies for each lesson (Vol 2) into which is embedded a good deal of grammatical information, along with practice passages for the first 15 lessons (Vol 1)—the early practice examples appear to be constructed sentences designed for the student to practice reading certain patterns. The third volume uses the primary texts to discuss general rules of grammar in detail.

Three decades later, the three-volume *Classical Chinese: A Basic Reader* (2004) by Naiyang Yuan, Haitao Tang, and James Geiss of Princeton University, mimics Shadick: texts, vocabularies, and grammatical analysis published in separate volumes. In 2017 the work was reprinted in one volume by combining the three parts, for a massive 850 pages. One of the special innovations of this textbook is that each of the 40 primary texts has vernacular Chinese and English translations.⁸ Another is that the lessons include two Romanized versions of the primary text: one in standard *pinyin* and one in the older *gwoyeu romatzyh*,⁹ as well as a *pinyin* version of the vernacular translation. Unlike Shadick, the 40 primary texts are all standard prose pieces from the classical period (fifth century BCE to first century CE). The exercises, which come at the end of Volume 1, are the most extensive of any textbook of this type, comprising 100 pages of different types of passive and active applications. As a marker of its intended audience, the vocabularies are in both modern Chinese and English (see more below on this phenomenon). The analysis is the longest of the three volumes (375 pages), composed primarily of sentence diagrams and examples of the sentence types. Like Shadick, it is probably more complicated and extensive than the average student needs, but would appeal to those interested in linguistics and comparative syntax.

One-Volume Textbooks

Recently it is more common to find one-volume Literary Chinese textbooks that condense and integrate into one chapter the materials found in separate volumes of Shadick and the Princeton textbooks, thereby creating a much more student-friendly text. I will review the following three textbooks in reverse chronological order of their publication, since in this fashion they move closer toward the second type of textbooks (those with Chinese paratextual material): Paul Rouzer, *A New Practical Primer of Literary Chinese* (2007); Michael Fuller, *An Introduction to Literary Chinese* (1999), and Gregory Chiang, *Language of the Dragon: A Classical Chinese Reader* (1998). I will conclude with consideration of several other, less established textbooks.

First, some similarities of these three texts: all are one-volume works that incorporate texts, vocabularies, grammatical explanations, and exercises into each lesson. To a large extent, they focus on canonical texts of the classical period (Warring States through Han Dynasty), with

brief forays beyond, but nothing after the Tang-Song period. Each textbook also attempts to layer the materials in increasing difficulty and length, much on the Shadick model but they use only unmediated authentic materials. Rouzer begins with short anecdotes from the Han dynasty collection, *Shuoyuan*; Fuller uses short selections from standard classical texts (*Lunyu*, *Hanfeizi*, *Mengzi*, etc.), while Chiang has relatively long passages from a selection of similar texts.

A New Practical Primer of Literary Chinese (2007)

Professor Rouzer is clear and resolute in arguing that Literary Chinese should not be considered just a version of Chinese, but rather seen and read in a much broader context:

There is one important assumption underlying this textbook: Even though Literary Chinese is best begun through a study of classical texts from China, the language itself is an international written language of East Asia and consequently must not be taught as or considered to be merely an ‘earlier stage’ of Mandarin or of the other modern Chinese dialects. (xiii)

Rouzer goes on to explain that Literary Chinese had a major advantage in becoming an international written language ‘because it was not a phonetically based language and provided a rich vocabulary for representing complex ideas’ (Ibid.). Thus, it easily exceeded the role that Latin played in medieval West, allowing for different, widely varying readings in the Korean, Japanese, and Vietnamese contexts. This leads directly to the most innovative component of the *Practical Primer*: each vocabulary item is given three pronunciations: Chinese, Japanese, and Korean. Given the complex nature of the Japanese pronunciation system, which often yields multiple possibilities, Rouzer also provides a standard *kanbun* 漢文 transliteration for each lesson at the end of the volume. His vocabulary items also include the ‘radical’ and its number (of the *Kangxi zidan* 康熙字典 system) for each character:

9. 禍 M: huò J: ka, *wazawai* K: kwa
Disaster, misfortune, bad luck.

Note the compressed version of the radical on the left side. Characters with this radical frequently have something to do with religious ceremonies or phenomena with a supernatural agency. Radical 113 (示, ‘to show’).

(5)

Thus, while other textbooks and teachers often encourage the participation of all ‘CJK’ L2 students (see, for example, Fuller xi), Rouzer is the only one that provides them with paratextual materials to help them in that work. By doing so he is encouraging much more diversity in the classroom. Another audience for Rouzer’s textbook and approach could be the international Japanese or Korean student who will have fluency in the vernacular but will not have substantial exposure to the literary language.

In addition to these unique materials, Rouzer includes an array of other paratextual materials. Some of these are closely linked to a given text, such as the Commentary that discusses important grammar points of each lesson and the practice exercises designed to emphasize those points, including active ones that have the student produce short Literary Chinese passages—answer keys and translations of the texts are provided in the back matter. Other aids are more generalized: Review of Common and Significant words—this is basically a set of grammar

notes; Notes on the Radical System; Comprehensive Glossary (arranged by radical and residual stroke) and a Mandarin Pronunciation Guide, which is clear acknowledgment of whence he expects most of his students to come to their study of Literary Chinese. Rouzer's Introduction is a valuable overview of the language written in non-encumbered style that should appeal to students; it concludes with an appeal to a relatively intuitive, experience-based pedagogy, calling into question learning based primarily on grammar rules. (xv) Indeed, one comes away from a review of this textbook with a sense that it is the literary texts themselves that drive the pedagogy and paratextual materials. I think Professor Rouzer is willing to let the power of the texts to be a guide for the students. He says his approach is 'practical' because it tries 'to avoid some of the complicated issues surrounding Literary Chinese interpretation for the sake of introducing student to the basics of the language' (xv). I think it is also 'practical' in that it believes deeply in the 'practice' of reading, which leads to what he calls 'semantic mastery' (xii).

An Introduction to Literary Chinese (1999)

Michael Fuller is in full agreement on the need to go beyond mastery of the grammatical aspects of Literary Chinese to become literate in the language. In fact, his 'Introduction' leads off with a subsection entitled 'Grammar is Not Enough' (1–2) wherein he argues that the uninflected, open nature of the Literary Chinese leaves room where 'there may be several perfectly grammatical ways to explain the syntax of a sentence'. It is by wider reading, both in the immediate context of the sentence and in the literature as a whole, that the student learns to determine the meaning of a passage at hand. This belief in learning by exposure rather than analysis is similar to Rouzer's approach. Nonetheless, Fuller's textbook is more grammar-driven than Rouzer's. This drive is felt throughout the various levels of the text, but emblematic in several of its components: a relatively detailed introduction to reading and structure of the language (1–33), and introductory set of lessons that explore certain grammatical and structural forms (Lessons 1–8, 39–100), and Appendices on 'Issues in Linguistic Aspects of Literary Chinese', (257–272) and 'Glossary of Function Words' (292–331). As for overall structure, Fuller layers the materials of increasing difficulty in four parts, with the last consisting of Tang-Song materials without *any* paratextual support—in two of these he includes traditional interlinear commentaries. In other functions, Fuller's text looks similar to Rouzer: integrated vocabulary and grammar notes, supplemented by student exercises in the early chapters.

In his Preface Professor Fuller also embraces the international nature of Literary Chinese, saying:

It is important to remember that the corpus of texts written in 'Literary Chinese' is more accurately an *East Asian* textual tradition and that the elites of pre-modern Korea, Japan, and Vietnam were both familiar with the authors whose works have been selected for this textbook and used Literary Chinese as the primary medium for serious writing.

Nonetheless, the textbook in many ways treats Literary Chinese as 'Chinese'. As far as I have seen, Fuller includes no active engagement with the East Asian aspects of the language, and occasionally the comparison with modern Chinese is straightforward: for example, in the exercises he asks, 'Explain the coordination of 望見. How does it differ from modern usage?' (120). Fuller also has an Appendix (281–284) that includes a comparison of the transliteration systems *pinyin*, Wade-Giles, and *zhuyin fuhao* 注音符號. The underlying assumption that this is a Chinese language system is something with which I expect most users of the textbook will be relatively comfortable, even if they know the East Asian history of the language. If they are deeply

interested in the Japanese or Korean version of the literary language, they will probably turn to materials specifically for those languages.

Both Professor Rouzer and Professor Fuller are clear that they expect the language of instruction to be English. This is in part a practical consideration, but it, of course carries its own ideological formations—when comparisons to another language are made (in either semantics or syntax) it is almost always to English.

Language of the Dragon: A Classical Chinese Reader (1998)

The author of our third textbook for consideration, Gregory Chiang, changes those comparisons and their underlying assumptions dramatically. Although he says one can teach the textbook with English as the language of instruction (in fact, I have done so), he firmly believes that modern Chinese is the most appropriate medium, adding:

This book offers a new approach to the traditional written language of China, emphasizing its grammatical difference from modern Chinese and highlighting the interaction between *wenyan* and *baihua*. Since the text uses *baihua* to teach *wenyan* it has a variety of applications. In addition, the *wenyan* examples are translated into *baihua* so that the book may also be used for self study.

(1)

This is a far different conceptualization of the language than promoted by either Rouzer or Fuller, especially the former, and shares the assumptions of the 2004 Princeton textbook discussed above. Chiang expects students to have studied three years of modern Chinese, with one of the goals of the text being to ‘increase proficiency in modern Chinese while studying classical Chinese’ (Ibid.). Yet since the paratextual materials are almost all bilingual (Chinese and English), the pedagogical choices here are broadened—note that despite the statement above, the primary texts are not translated into either Chinese or English. Thus, one environment that this text might be suited for is the classroom of mixed English and Chinese native speakers. One could imagine a dynamic where not only do the L2 Chinese learners improve their Mandarin proficiency, but the Chinese international students also improve their English. In this case, translation into either language could be used as a strong pedagogical tool. (Since the Princeton textbook supplies the translations into Chinese and English, it removes them as a practice for the students).

Despite the bilingual nature of Professor Chiang’s textbook, it does present its texts and paratextual materials in a manner structurally close to those of Rouzer and Fuller (remembering that his text is the earliest). The lessons are almost entirely from the classical, pre-Han period, and sequenced for difficulty; they have complete vocabularies and grammatical instructions, along with practice exercises. The appendices take up more detailed questions of grammar, including an Index to Function Words.

Textbooks with Chinese Paratextual Support

There are textbooks that fully embrace the study of Literary Chinese through the vehicle of modern Chinese. First, we might consider those textbooks prepared for the native reader of Chinese (now usually either in middle school or college). These ‘textbooks’ have been in existence at least since the Xiao Tong’s 蕭統 *Wen Xuan* 文選 of the sixth century C.E. But for the modern era, the grandfather of the modern textbook is the *Guwen guan zhi* 古文觀止 of 1695, which exists in a variety of modern editions, of which I have 1972 and 1975 versions from

Taiwan. The latter exhibits its orientation to the native learner most clearly, in this case for students in Taiwan. The vertical text is fully punctuated (minus underscoring of proper nouns), footnoted and heavily annotated in a formal but vernacular style (mainly concerning the semantics of word or phrases); it has *zhuyin fuhao* side-script pronunciations for the primary texts, and concludes with a relatively formal vernacular translation of each. Although these editions contain a great deal of historical and cultural information in their annotations, there is no separate ‘grammar notes’ or the like (Xinyi guwen guangzhi 1975). The *Guwen guangzhi* consists of 221 texts from the Zhou classics to Ming literary prose, which are chronologically sequenced—there are no lyric (*shi* 詩 or *ci* 詞) poems, however. During the twentieth century the *Guwen guangzhi* and similar anthologies contributed directly to the content and style of National Literature (*guowen* 國文) textbooks (see my ‘Nana’s Textbook’ (2015) for some detailed information on and a bibliography of those textbooks).

In the post-1949 era, the most important of these indigenous textbooks from the PRC is Wang Li’s 王力 *Gudai Hanyu* 古代漢語 (1962), which in its very name declares the affiliation of Literary Chinese and modern Chinese. This work by the famous linguist is monumental: three volumes, 1700 pages, over 200 primary texts of classical prose and poetry from the classical Zhou period to the Song dynasty, all in full-form characters, although printed horizontally. The text is strong in all poetic genres, especially the lyric *shi*. This is an index in the shift of what became the classical canon during the development of National Literature of the twentieth century; originally *guowen* (a term borrowed from Japan) referred to almost entirely prose texts (as in the *Guwen guanzhi*), but through the decades, *shi* poetry, especially of the High Tang period, became emblematic of classical literature, and that is reflected in Wang Li’s text.

In pedagogical tools, *Gudai Hanyu* goes far beyond what we see in the editions of the *Guwen guangzhi*. Its organization is highly complex and thoroughly systematic. As described in the Forward (5), each of the 14 units (*danyuan* 單元) consists of material taken from a single source or genre, ranging from four selections from the early histories *Shi ji* and *Hanshu* 漢書 in unit 8 to 70 poems across 10 centuries in unit 13. Each unit’s selections are ordered chronologically and fully annotated; the annotations include both semantic and grammatical information. In addition each unit has a list of ‘commonly used words’ (*changyongci* 常用詞) that are treated in detail, including sources of definitions that vary over time, examples of usage from iconic texts, and comparative terms—there are a total of 1,086 *changyongci* entries. Also each unit has several essays (*gudai hanyu tonglun* 古代漢語通論) that discuss Sinological issues, from the most basic (how to consult a dictionary (61–70)) to detailed prosodic rules for the *shi* poetry genre (1430–1461). And finally there is an array of appendices and indices; especially strong are those on classical poetic prosody and rhyme. There are also two indices for the ‘commonly used words’, forming a very handy ‘dictionary’ of these key terms.

Could Wang Li’s *Gudai Hanyu* be a useful textbook for the L2 Chinese learner? I believe it could if a student has modern Chinese reading proficiencies approaching the Superior range and who is conversant in mainstream classical Chinese culture; it might even be used as a self-study text with such students. The strength of *Gudai Hanyu* is also its weakness; it is so thorough that it would be overwhelming for most students, and is probably best reserved as a reference book or go-to literary anthology. The annotated editions of the *Guwen guanzhi* have a similar potential for the very advanced student, and are somewhat less daunting in the amount of paratextual materials—the one with the *zhuyin fuhao* pronunciation guides is useful for that alone. Yet, we must remember, the *Guwen guanzhi* has no poetic texts and is very limited in that aspect.

There are also textbooks specifically for the L2 Chinese learner, presenting Literary Chinese entirely (or almost entirely) in a modern Chinese language context. The best example is the *Jinjie wenyanwen duben* 進階文言文讀本 of the International Chinese Language Program (ICLP)

in Taiwan, which has the slightly oxymoronic English title, *Literary Chinese for Advanced Beginners*. The only English in this textbook is the bilingual Preface written by Vivian Ling, then Director of ICLP, and in the ‘Glossary of Grammatical Terms’. Director Ling is clear about the text’s intended audience, including their oxymoronic condition:

This book is designed for students who, having achieved at least advanced intermediate level in modern Chinese, wish to embark on the study of literary Chinese. Such students can be considered relatively ‘advanced’ in modern Chinese, in the sense that they are near the threshold of functionality in academic Chinese, but are ‘beginners’ in literary Chinese. The present textbook presumes an ability to read modern expository prose, albeit with the use of dictionaries, and to function in a monolingual Chinese classroom.

(v)

The strictly enforced monolingual Chinese classroom is the standard of ICLP and other advanced study abroad programs, which can be taught ‘by a native Chinese instructor with no background in English’ (ibid). That is clearly the most natural environment for the use of this textbook, but it does not mean it could not be valuable in other situations—such as for advanced students in a ‘content based’ learning environment of the Chinese Flagship programs. For these students it has the double draw of teaching both advanced modern Chinese (which is usually the student’s main interest) as well as Literary Chinese. Professor Ling also explicitly places this text between Harold Shadick’s *First Course* and native textbooks such as *Guwen guangzhi* (ibid.) Whether this approach assumes modern Chinese is a derivation of Literary Chinese or not is somewhat moot since all subjects taught at ICLP are in modern Chinese. Once that is accepted, the student is presented with clear, relatively conventional lessons: fully punctuated primary texts, followed by vocabulary and grammar notes. Since there is no translation of the primary text, this allows that to be the responsibility of the student in the classroom. Each lesson ends with ‘exercises’ (*lianxi* 練習), which are primarily examples of grammatical forms from different authentic sources. The readings deviate from most other texts (but follow Shadick) in that the 22 texts cover material from the classical period (half of the lessons) up to the Republican period, with one selection from Liang Qichao 梁啟超 and one from Cai Yuanpei 蔡元培.

Another Approach

Finally, I would like to consider a recent textbook that breaks certain molds, while returning to an older approach to teaching Literary Chinese. In this case, grammar *really* matters. Kai Li and James Dew’s *Classical Chinese: A Functional Approach* (2009) is not organized around canonical or key readings, but rather around certain grammatical structures and functional terms. The authors are clear about this approach: after pointing out the limitations of the ‘selections’ approach (including the arbitrary, often obscure, vocabulary, and the limited semantic range of important terms as they appear in a given selection), they offer the ‘functional’ approach:

Therefore we have set aside the ‘selected readings’ format in favor of what might be called an ‘excerpts style.’ We select typical example sentences and somewhat longer excerpts, gathering function words, fixed phrases and special syntactic forms into groups for explanation. This is the warp that holds the fabric together, while individual sentences with glosses on their vocabulary—mostly content words—serve as the woof that completes the tapestry.

(vii)

What this means is that the authors have moved grammatical and explanatory material, which in other textbooks is usually secondary or even tertiary, to the fore, making it the organizing principle of the textbook. For example, Lesson 1 introduces the three principal uses of *zhi* 之, with short, authentic sentences from various sources. This effectively reinforces the uses of this particularly high-frequency word. After each example there is a short list of vocabulary items, which are glossed in modern Chinese and English. This is a reflection of the full bilinguality of the text, and the assumption that Literary Chinese is generically related to modern Chinese; in fact, from the introduction one gets a sense of the privileging of modern Chinese:

Thus the teaching of classical Chinese should be an integral component of a Chinese language program for foreign [non-native Chinese] students so that the students will understand the development of the language and have a deeper appreciation for it. As they study the classical language their level of competence in the modern language will naturally and concurrently improve.

(viii)

Such assumptions are probably inevitable with the changing of the field of Chinese studies, but we should never forget the compelling arguments put forth by Professor Rouzer that Literary Chinese, despite the name, was not coterminous with China, in any of its configurations.

The Li and Dew volume's argument against the 'selection' pedagogy is an argument for a learning method where coherently presented grammar patterns are substituted for extensive reading. Nonetheless, inconsistencies are unavoidable. For example, while Lesson 5 introduces the various uses of *yi* 以, already in Lesson 1 the student encounters the *yi* function word; moreover, the examples introduce low-frequency characters, such as *wei* 畏 and *ju* 懼 (HSK Level 6). This is one of the problems of insisting that every example be 'authentic'—if one just substituted *pa* 怕 for both *wei* and *ju*, nothing would be lost *grammatically*, and the vocabulary would be well within the student's range. Even with that caveat, this method has appeal, reminding me of Professor Cohen's method of decades earlier.

In Conclusion: A Choice of Textbooks

Now we have to ask: which of these textbooks (and there are certainly many others to choose from) is best for the L2 Chinese learner? That answer depends on both practical circumstances and pedagogical ideology. First the practical.

Shadick's *First Course* and Princeton's *Classical Chinese* are just too cumbersome for contemporary students who are used to carrying their life on a 4"x5" electronic gizmo. And it is not just the size of the textbooks (although they might require a second backpack); it is about the arrangement of materials, which are spread out through three volumes (or three volumes in one), so the student needs to have three 'windows' open on his desk at any given time. These volumes might appeal to the self-study student who wants to plow as deeply as possible into the materials—yet that student probably would have the talents to use Wang Li's *Gudai Hanyu*, a more talented, three-tome monster. In terms of size and usability, other textbooks are well within the 'backpack range'.

Paul Rouzer's *Practical Primer* is the only textbook that addresses the CJK international nature of Literary Chinese and would be a must for someone of that pedagogical inclination. Other textbooks might accommodate the Japanese or Korean students in the classroom, but they do not encourage them to be there. Yet, one would also need to have the talents that Professor

Rouzer possesses to use the book in the way it is intended: that is, one would have to be comfortable with all three readings of the East Asian literary language. One could use Rouzer's text to teach just one of these readings (and Chinese would be the easiest), but that would miss the important intellectual stance that Rouzer takes. His text also requires that English be the language of instruction, unless we imagine some high-wire linguistic gymnastics.¹⁰

Michael Fuller's *Introduction to Literary Chinese* is also based on the use of English as language of instruction, and acknowledges the international nature of Literary Chinese, but it is quite clearly a textbook written for the L2 Chinese learner and could be used (with due diligence) with a student at the intermediate level of study. The organization of the material is carefully layered and the paratextual materials thick and sophisticated; it does assume a certain amount of interest in linguistic/philological matters (the very things Rouzer plays down for his 'practical' approach). Thus, Fuller's text is perhaps the best suited for the English-language classroom of serious L2 Chinese learners, such as those intending to go on in Chinese studies.

At the other end of the spectrum are textbooks intended for classes where modern Chinese is the language of instruction; these come in different styles and levels. Only one considered here, the ICLP textbook, is insistent on Chinese-only environment, which would be most suited for advanced study abroad programs where language pledges are in full implementation. The text *could* be used effectively with advanced students in controlled environments such as immersion summer courses or Chinese Flagship programs. As mentioned above, this approach would also attract students who wanted to use the study of Literary Chinese as a way to improve their advanced modern Chinese. The two other textbooks, Chiang's *Language of the Dragon* and Li and Dew's *Classical Chinese*, where almost all material is bilingual, open different pedagogical avenues, although both narrow the focus to only students/speakers of Chinese. Chiang may be better suited to the mixed classroom of L2 Chinese learners and native speakers, simply because it does not contain any translations of the primary texts, although it does have English translations of some of the examples contained in the paratextual materials, and instructions for the exercises are only in English. The paratextual materials of Li and Dew volume are more completely bilingual, yet since it provides vernacular translations of all the examples and reading texts,¹¹ this makes the textbook more suitable for the advanced L2 Chinese learner.

Thus, in the end, the instructor must weigh his or her talents and background, the specific learning environment, and the targeted students in order to decide which of these textbook types (if not these very textbooks) is best. What is clear is that any one of them, from Shadick's *First Course* to Li and Dew's *Classical Chinese*, can provide effective instruction in basic Literary Chinese, and that will have advantages for anyone (included native speakers) in reading, speaking, and writing in Chinese and other East Asian languages. It is also true, however, that advanced competence in Literary Chinese will only come with extensive exposure to different textual materials, and most learners will reach that advanced proficiency in only one of the many genres of the language.

Notes

- 1 The arguments and examples in this chapter reflect the limits of my training and experience: classical Chinese literature, modern Chinese poetry, Taiwan cultural studies, as well as teaching second-year Standard Modern Chinese.
- 2 In this chapter I use the term 'full-form characters' as a translation for *fantizi* rather than 'traditional characters', which implies usage in some pre-contemporary period or vehicle. In a bow to convention, I use the old term 'character' throughout, when simply 'graph' would be more accurate.
- 3 The textbook by Li Kai and James Dew (reviewed below) comes in both full-form and simplified character editions.

- 4 Mair is discussing the Chinese term *fangyan* 方言 (usually ‘dialects’) and proposes ‘topolect’; he argues that most of these are not written languages and are mutually incomprehensible; he does recognize that ‘written Sinitic’ of Literary Chinese and Mandarin share these graphic levels. (7)
- 5 For more detailed descriptions of Literary Chinese, see the Introductions by Michael Fuller (1999) and Paul Rouzer (2007).
- 6 For President Xi’s use of classical Chinese in his speeches, see <https://blogs.wsj.com/chinarealtime/2014/05/09/literary-leaders-why-chinas-president-is-so-fond-of-dropping-confucius/>
- 7 Additionally, there were once cassette tapes available for the first 16 lessons – I have not heard these but assume they were readings of the texts in standard modern Chinese (Mandarin).
- 8 Although unexplained, Shadick has vernacular translations of the first seven texts.
- 9 *Guoyeu romatzyh* (commonly called GR) was the Romanization system invented by Y.R. Chao and committee in 1926 for their highly influential *Guoyu cidian* (1966), the original source for the standardization of the national language. The signature characteristic of the system is that the tones are ‘spelled out’ in the Romanization, not added by some supersegmental element.
- 10 Speaking of linguistic gymnastics, the ICLP program uses Shadick’s *First Course* as their introductory text, and it is taught entirely in Chinese – it defies imagination how this is done.
- 11 The latter are provided in the keys to the exercises at the end of the volume. Note that while the exercises give instructions in English only, the keys have those instructions in Chinese, a somewhat odd distribution.

References

English References

- Allen, J. R. (2015) ‘Nana’s textbook: Building a national literature in Middle School’. *Modern Chinese Literature and Culture* 27(1): 105–162.
- Chiang, G. (1998) *Language of the Dragon: A Classical Chinese Reader*. Boston: Cheng and Tsui Company.
- Cohen, A. P. (1975) *Grammar Notes for Introductory Classical Chinese*. San Francisco: Chinese Materials Center.
- Fuller, M. (1999) *An Introduction to Literary Chinese*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Asia Center.
- Li, K. and Dew, J. (2009) *Classical Chinese: A Functional Approach*. Boston: Cheng and Tsui Company.
- Mair, V. (1991) ‘What is a Chinese “Dialect/Topolect”? Reflections on some key Sino-English linguistic terms’. *Sino-Platonic Papers* 12: 1–31.
- Rouzer, P. (2007) *A New Practical Primer of Literary Chinese*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Asia Center.
- Shadick, H. (1968) *A First Course in Literary Chinese*. 3 vols. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.

Chinese References

- Cao Xueqin 曹雪芹. (1957) 紅樓夢 (Dream of the Red Chamber). Beijing: Renmin wenxue chubanshe.
- Deng Kangyan 鄧康延. (2011) 老課本新閱讀 (A New Reading of Old Textbooks). Cosmos: Hong Kong.
- Gongheguo jiaokeshu guowen 共和國教科書國文 (Republican National Literature Textbooks). (1914) Edited by Wu Jin 武進 and Xu Guoying 許國英. Shanghai, Shangwu shuyinguan.
- Guo Maoqian 郭茂倩. (1979) 樂府詩集 (A Collection of Music Bureau Poems). Beijing: Zhonghua shuju.
- Guoyu cidian 國語辭典 (Dictionary of the National Language). (1966) Y. R. Chao et al. (eds.) Taipei: Shangwu yinshuguan.
- Guwen guanzhi xinbian 古文觀止新編 (New Edition of Guwen Guanzhi) (1972) Edited by Dai Xinmin 戴新民. Taipei: Qiye shuju.
- Jinjie wenyanwen duben 進階文言文讀本 *Literary Chinese for Advanced Beginners*. (1997) Authored by Chen Huaixuan 陳懷萱 and Zhou Changzhen 周長楨. Edited by Vivian Ling and James Du. Taipei: SMC Publishing.
- Mengzi zhengyi 孟子正義 (Standard Mencius). (1967) Taipei: Zhonghua shuju.
- Shangwu xinxuezhizhi guoyu jiaokeshu 商務新學制國語教科書 (New Commercial Educational System Textbook of National Language). (2011) Guiyang: Guizhou renmin. www.baike.com/wiki/ 商务新学制国語教科书

- Shijing* 詩經 (Book of Songs). (2008) Edited by Xiang Xi 向熹. Beijing: Gaodeng jiaoyu chubanshe.
- Shijing zhuxi* 詩經注析 (Analysis of Book of Songs) (1991) Edited by Cheng Junying 程俊英 and Jiang Jianyuan 蔣見元. Beijing: Zhonghua shuju.
- Sima Qian 司馬遷. (1972) 史記 (Record of the Historian). Beijing: Zhonghua shuju.
- Wang Li 王力. (1962). 古代漢語 (Ancient Chinese). Beijing: Zhonghua shuju.
- Wang Yi 王逸. (1983) 楚辭補注 (Edited Songs of the South). Beijing: Zhonghua shuju,.
- Xiao Tong 蕭統. (1962) 文選 (Selected Literature). Taipei: Shijie shuju.
- Xinyi guwen guanzhi*. 新譯古文觀止 (New Interpretation of the Guwen guanzhi). (1975) Edited by Xie Yongrong 謝泳瑩, et al. Taipei: Sanmin Shuju.

Teaching Chinese Characters

What We Know and What We Can Do

Bo Hu

Introduction

Learning the Chinese script—characters—is one of the most challenging tasks in learning the Chinese language. Some describe the experience as engaging and therapeutic, whereas others report that it is tedious and time-consuming. These seemingly contradictory opinions are a clear indication of the difficulties involved in teaching and learning Chinese characters. This review chapter is not intended to instruct teachers of Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language (CFL) on what to do in the classroom, but rather aims to inform teachers about what we know and to suggest what more we can do to help our students. This review opens with the section *Learning about Characters* discussing the cultural elements of Chinese characters, including their development and etymology. The chapter then focuses on practices and strategies for character learning under four subheadings—*Learning Characters the Traditional Way*, *The Modern Way*, *The Creative Way*, and *The Self-Directed Way*. The chapter ends with the section *Teaching Characters*, offering approaches that may help CFL teachers from different backgrounds and with different needs.

Learning About Characters

The Character-Learning Triangle

The written script of Chinese is not alphabet- or syllabary-based and does not allow its users to spell phonologically. It is formed, in essence, of lines (often called strokes, which are either a single line or a combination of connecting lines). These lines or strokes form shapes and components, some of which may relate to the meaning or the pronunciation of a word. Learning characters is underpinned by a *triangle* connecting their shape, pronunciation, and meaning.

The *recognition* side of this triangle concerns the mapping of an orthographic form onto its semantic representation. Chinese characters, being logographic, illustrate meanings in varying ways and to various degrees (see *Etymology*). However, this illustration can be fairly equivocal, especially following periodic standardization and simplification. According to the *Draft List of Commonly Used Words in Modern Chinese* (现代汉语常用词表草案) (2008), over 70 percent of

all common Chinese words are formed from two characters and only 5 percent consist of a single character. Almost every character has its own independent meaning (a morpheme) and the meaning of a word is linked with the meaning of its constituent characters in a number of direct and indirect ways (see e.g. Pan, Yip and Han 1993). Taylor and Taylor (2014) calculate that, on average, one character can be used in nine different words, while the most frequently appearing characters could appear in as many as 126 words.

The *coding* side in the character-learning triangle refers to the ability to pronounce the character without the aid of Romanization. In the case of Chinese characters, coding is neither conspicuous nor straightforward. There are no regular phonetic symbols. Some recurring components (often but not always characters in their own right) can suggest the pronunciation of the characters of which they form a part. For example, Zhou (1978, quoted in Shen and Ke 2007) believes that there are 1,348 characters that act as sound components in 6,542 other characters. This means that one first needs to be familiar with a certain number of characters in order to recognize and exploit the sound components of unfamiliar characters. Zhou's findings also suggest that cumulative knowledge helps with the coding of characters more generally. Nevertheless, it is also worth pointing out that many characters completely lack any sort of intrinsic phonological indicator.

The last side of the triangle—the *writing* side—refers to the production of characters by hand without any visual aid. Owing to the absence of apparent sound-form correspondences, 'blind' writing of characters presents a considerable challenge to both native and CFL learners. Furthermore, a lack of regularity among characters makes it more difficult still to memorize their forms. For instance, a character can have as few as just one stroke, such as 一 yī 'one', or as many as 64, as in the case of 囍 zhé 'garrulous'.

Replacing Characters with a Romanized Script?

Languages such as Korean and Vietnamese used Chinese characters as their written script during the Imperial Period, and only around a century ago officially changed to phonological scripts, the Hangul and Vietnamese alphabets, respectively. Japan, which was once heavily influenced by ancient Chinese civilization, still uses characters—Kanji—today. However, the Japanese language also uses two syllabic scripts, Hiragana and Katakana, for its written texts. Languages with more pronounceable writing systems are naturally less intimidating for learners, so why has Chinese not changed?

Beginning in the early twentieth century, and following influence from Western languages, debates have remained ongoing among Chinese intellectuals about whether or not characters ought to be replaced with a Romanized script. One crucial reason for the Chinese characters' survival is the large number of homophones in Chinese, a number that is larger still when counting the same phonemes with different tones. This is an idiosyncratic feature of the Chinese language. Modern Chinese has only around 400 syllables. The result is that Chinese has very limited possible distinctive sound combinations. The differentiation provided by the tones adds yet more confusion, because similar-sounding words can have completely different meanings. Consequently, the characters are very important, their individuality helping to distinguish meaning between less-distinct phonological counterparts.

To illustrate this point, one can refer to Chinese texts conceived in purely monosyllabic homophones. The most well-known such text is *Lion-Eating Poet in the Stone Den* (施氏食狮记), written by the famous linguist Yuen Ren Chao, which tells the story of a poet who enjoys eating lions. The entire story is written in 92 characters that have the same phonological transcription *shi*; these characters differ only in tone. However, among these 92 characters, there are 33 distinct

written forms. Although Chao's intention at the time was to show that the Chinese language needed reform, his story nevertheless demonstrated the infeasibility of replacing characters with a Romanized script.

Nevertheless, as a script that is less phonology-determined, characters have the advantage of being able to unify written records across regions in China where different dialects are spoken. If characters were replaced with a Romanized script, this would likely open the door to disparate written outputs following the different sound and vocabulary systems of these different dialects. This would create difficulty with regards to the common intelligibility of written materials across the greater Sinophone area.

Pronouncing Characters

As there is no straightforward feature indicating sound built into the characters, how does one learn to pronounce characters for which one does not already know the pronunciation? The original method of transcribing character pronunciations, which stretches back over 2,000 years, involves using a more frequently appearing character to mark a less common character with an identical or similar pronunciation. Later on, a system called *Fanqie* (反切) was developed, wherein two characters are used to mark the pronunciation of one target character. The consonant of the first character is taken together with the vocalic part (including the tone) of the second character. To give an example *Fanqie* entry from a classical dictionary, ‘汉, 呼肝切’ would be written in Pinyin as /hàn, hūgān qiē/, meaning that, if we take the consonant /h/ from ‘呼 hū’ and the vocalic /àn/ from ‘肝 gān’ and combine them (切 qiē), this gives the pronunciation /hàn/ for the character ‘汉’. In addition to *Fanqie*, there also existed dictionaries using *Rime Tables* (韵图) listing and describing all possible pronunciations of characters, though these are essentially unintelligible to modern readers.

In recent times, a number of different pronunciation systems for characters have been developed. Particularly noteworthy among these are the Wade-Giles Romanization and Mandarin Phonetic Symbols. The Wade-Giles system was developed by British scholars and is widely used in Western publications about China during the twentieth century, in both academic publications and language instruction books. Wade-Giles was also used in Taiwan for a long period of time, serving to mark pronunciation and transliterate names. The Mandarin Phonetic Symbols system was developed near the end of the Qing Dynasty and gained official status during the Republican era. In Taiwan, it is compulsory for primary schoolchildren to learn this system before beginning to learn characters. The Mandarin Phonetic Symbols bear a likeness to the Kana scripts used in Japanese.

Hanyu Pinyin is now the most widely acknowledged and commonly used system for transcribing the pronunciation of Chinese characters. This system was developed in the 1950s by the government-commissioned Chinese Language Reform Committee. It was first implemented in mainland China and later became recognized in other Chinese-speaking regions such as Singapore, Malaysia, and Taiwan, as well as among overseas Chinese communities.

Simplified Vs. Traditional Characters

There are two forms of written characters in Chinese, known as simplified (or abbreviated) and traditional (unabbreviated or complex) characters. In mainland China, simplified characters replaced some traditional ones and assumed the status of the official written script following the promulgation of the *Character Simplification Scheme* (汉字简化方案) in 1956 and the publication of the *List of Simplified Characters* (简化字总表) in 1964. The simplified characters are also

the official written language of Singapore and the working script of international organizations such as the United Nations. Simplified characters, as the name suggests, are a more economical version of their traditional counterparts. Fu (1986) concluded that the average number of strokes per character among the 2,236 simplified characters is 10.3, compared to an average of 15.6 strokes for their original forms. Allowing its users to write with noticeably fewer strokes, character simplification was intended to improve public literacy and general education. Besides appearing in classical manuscripts and certain specialized contexts, the traditional characters are still the main written form used in Hong Kong, Macau, and Taiwan.

For readers who have only learned one character form (either simplified or traditional), switching between these forms during reading is quite possible, for the following reasons: 1) not all characters are simplified. There is still significant overlap between the two forms; 2) the simplified characters do not alter the configuration of their traditional counterparts; and 3) recurrent components and radicals are simplified in a consistent way, making them easily identifiable.

Number of Characters

The renowned *Kangxi Dictionary* (康熙字典), published in 1716, has entries for around 47,000 characters. *The Great Compendium of Chinese Characters* (汉语大字典) (2010) lists 60,370 entries. *Cihai* (辞海) (1979) contains 14,872 characters. *The Dictionary of Chinese Character Variants* (異體字字典) collects 106,333 characters including variants in its sixth official edition, published online in Taiwan in 2017. Clearly, many of the characters listed in these dictionaries are of predominantly historical value and no longer appear in practical use.

The List of Standard Typefaces for Chinese Characters (印刷通用汉字字形表), released in 1965, includes 6,196 characters. *The List of Standardly Used Characters in Modern Chinese* (现代汉语通用字表) (1988b) lists 7,000 characters. By contrast, *The List of Commonly Used Characters in Modern Chinese* (现代汉语常用字表), also published in 1988a, has entries for 3,500 characters. Note that most of these titles were published in mainland China post-1956, the year when simplified characters were introduced.

According to Norman (1988), an ordinary literate Chinese person has a working knowledge of between 3,000 and 4,000 characters, whereas a highly educated person, particularly one who works with ancient texts, is expected to know at least 5,000 or even 6,000 characters.

The official Chinese language proficiency test (HSK) classifies candidates at six levels, each of which requires knowledge of a set number of simplified characters with Level 1 requiring knowledge of around 150 characters and Level 6 requiring knowledge of above 2,500.

Etymology

Six Writings (六书) is the orthodox etymological system for classifying characters. Xu Shen (许慎 58AD-148AD) uses this system in his revered lexicographical work on the characters, *Explaining Graphs and Analyzing Characters* (说文解字 100-121AD). *Six Writings* includes the following classifications (for further reading, see also Boltz 1994):

- *Pictographic characters, pictograms* (象形): These replicate the shape or form of their referent. It is estimated that 4 percent of characters are pictograms, such as 山 ‘mountain, hill’, 女 ‘woman’, and 人 ‘people’.
- *Self-explanatory or indicative characters* (指事): These are pictographic characters augmented with labeling or indicative strokes that clarify meaning. Examples include 上 ‘above’, where

the short horizontal stroke marks the above position, and 亦 ‘also, arm/armpit (original meaning)’, where the dots on the two sides mark the arms of a person.

- *Associate compounds (会意)*: These combine two semantic components to form a higher-level meaning. Around 13 percent of characters fall into this category, for instance, 囚 ‘prisoner’, which is formed of a person inside a confined space, 灾 ‘disaster’, a fire under a roof, and 香 ‘fragrant’, crops growing well in a field.
- *Picto-phonetic, morpho-syllabic, or semantic-phonetic characters (形声)*: These normally consist of two components, one indicating meaning and another indicating pronunciation. Over 80 percent of all characters belong to this group. Take for example *xiǎng* 想 ‘to think (a mental and psychological behavior)’, where the top part *xiāng* 相 shows pronunciation and the bottom component 心 ‘heart’ signifies meaning, or *guǎn* 馆 ‘house for special purpose (such as restaurant)’, where the food radical on the left 饣 signifies the meaning while the right-hand part *guān* 官 indicates the sound.
- *Phonetic loans or rebuses (假借)*: These were originally borrowings of a character with a similar or the same pronunciation in order to represent another word of unrelated meaning. For example, *běi* 北 originally meant ‘back-to-back’ and later came to mean ‘north’, because its pronunciation is the same as that of ‘north’.
- *Transformed cognates or derivative cognates (转注)*: These normally refer to pairs of characters that initially shared the same radical, pronunciation, etymological root, or meaning but later diverged from one other in pronunciation and meaning. Cases of transformed cognates of this type are rare in practice, and this category exists for its historical value more than anything else. For instance, 老 and 考 share the same top component and both originally meant ‘old’. However, 考 later developed other meanings such as ‘father’, or ‘to test’.

Learning Characters the Traditional Way

The traditional way of learning characters is also referred to as the ‘pen-and-paper approach’. This method generally involves the following three steps:

1. Writing the strokes in the correct direction. A stroke is defined as beginning from the point where the pen first meets the paper to the point where it lifts off. For example, a horizontal stroke 横 goes from left to right, while a down-to-the-left stroke 撇 goes from top to bottom;
2. Following the stroke order. (Note that only one set of rules exists for both left-handed and right-handed learners regarding stroke direction and stroke order.) Stroke order tables show how to write characters stroke by stroke. Students are strongly advised to copy a stroke order table when learning to write characters. Copying the stroke order is a very important—though often neglected—part of learning to write characters. This practice helps learners to organize the configuration of characters and also regularizes the writing process. By following a set routine in writing strokes, learners find it easier to memorize characters in the long term and are less likely to make errors, such as omitting or mixing up strokes. Normally, this practice is only needed at the initial learning stage. Because all stroke orders conform to a limited range of set patterns, students, after some practice, will be able to predict the stroke order of a new character without the aid of a table;
3. Writing repetitively. This seemingly mechanical action is often regarded as indispensable in developing the ability to produce characters automatically. Chinese schoolchildren learning to write their native language are trained in mass writing exercises on gridded paper, to

encourage the production of neat, well-balanced characters. Some CFL learners also find it helpful to write on gridded or lined paper, especially when a character needs to be reproduced numerous times.

The three aforementioned steps are essential in guaranteeing the development of so-called *muscle memory* for writing characters. Muscle memory is known to help consolidate skill-related memorization involving, for instance, hand movement. Learning to write characters is to some extent comparable to learning to play a musical instrument, where the learner is required to execute a certain sequence of movements and so exercises this sequence over and over. The learner thereby develops associative muscle memory and eventually gains the ability to instinctively perform the process of writing (or instrument playing) in a fluent, spontaneous way.

Besides this physical element, the traditional way of learning characters also entails cognitive elements, such as: 1) analyzing the composition of a character and making use of its constituent information and other visual or etymological clues to memorize it; 2) making up stories that link the meaning of a character with its shape or components. This is particularly effective for memorizing idiosyncratic characters (for books with illustrations of character stories and decompositions, see Heisig and Richardson 2009; Matthews and Matthews 2007; Tan 1999; Shi 2007); 3) using paper flashcards to assist self-testing, particularly when learning on the move. For a detailed list of character-learning strategies, see Shen (2005); Grenfell and Harris (2015). While rote learning is perceived to be the most common and effective method for learning Chinese characters (e.g. McGinnis 1999; Yin 2003), this should not be taken to undermine active, mindful processes, which can be essential to processing characters. These processes aid memorization by asserting logical and/or distinctive cognitive links through which the character can be negotiated in the learner's memory.

Learning Characters the Modern Way

New approaches to teaching writing have come about with modern technology and mobile devices. These technologies provide a wide range of tools for learning, memorizing, and practicing writing Chinese characters. This modern way has gained considerable popularity because of its capacity to mobilize and stimulate one's learning experience and hence strengthen and preserve learners' motivation, particularly with regards to those who have difficulty learning by rote. Listed below are some popular apps for learning characters.

- **Skritter:** Skritter offers a stroke-teaching mode, in which the learner screen-writes characters following an animated demonstration of each stroke in order. This mode also offers prompts about the meaning, tone, and Pinyin of the character. In the self-testing mode, the app asks the learner to rate how well they think they have remembered the target word or character in order to produce a 'study algorithm', whereby words that the learner has not remembered as well appear by priority in future testing. Skritter also contains vocabulary lists from commonly used textbooks, which users can learn and practice.
- **Memrise:** One of the main features of Memrise is learning with and from a community of language learners. Memrise users can add mnemonics, called 'mems', to a character, and view mems created by other users. This 'mem' could be a picture that resembles the shape of the character or a sentence that links the meaning with its pronunciation. Memrise users also earn points for learning characters and there is a leader board showing how other community members have progressed.

- **Pleco:** Pleco is a Chinese dictionary app with add-on features including Optical Character Recognition (OCR) for looking up words/characters using a smartphone camera, Handwriting Recognition Search for looking up words/characters that have been handwritten on a touch screen, and a Document Reader that looks up words/characters in documents opened for reading. Pleco contains a collection of major dictionary inventories, offering an index of all words containing a given character under its entry and many example sentences showing how each word/character is used, with both Pinyin and translations.
- **Anki:** Anki is an e-flashcard system in which learners can create their own list (deck) of characters or download the hundreds of existing lists. Anki allows users to customize the pace of study by specifying, for example, how many characters to learn each day and how often to review a learnt character.

In general, most character-learning apps use the Spaced Repetition System (SRS). SRS offers programmatic revision of a learnt item, i.e. a character, normally based on the learner's knowledge and familiarity with the target item. A character considered less familiar to the learner, for instance, will be revised sooner and more frequently than characters that are more familiar. The rating system in Skritter and the frequency choice in Anki are both applications of the SRS. In addition, a good character-learning app often assists learners in organizing their learning process by providing study plans and records, documenting, for instance, how much time the learner has spent learning characters each day, how many characters they have learned, how their revision has progressed, and so on.

Learning Characters the Creative Way

I interviewed Ms Uei Chiang-Schreiber (蔣葳), who has been involved in designing creative and innovative approaches for teaching CFL for many years (see www.facebook.com/Chinese-trainer). Uei's teaching has been inspired by such theories as suggestopedia (Georgi Lozanov), linguistic psychodramaturgy (Bernard Dufeu), drama in education, intercultural study, and the multiple intelligence theory (Howard Gardner). Unlike conventional classrooms, Uei's students, mostly adults, do not sit down in front of a table. They normally stand in a circle and do their learning through physical activities, also termed 'kinesthetic learning'. Our interview lasted around 40 minutes and I summarize some of Uei's methods below.

The first method that Uei discussed involved synchronizing musical rhythms to the writing of characters. Her students are encouraged to sing their own melody and rhythm matching the pace of their writing. Each stroke becomes a different beat. A long stroke can be a long beat, and a short stroke one short beat. A combined stroke may have two fast beats. Uei believes that, in this way, students' musical intelligence is stimulated, helping them to become more engaged in the writing process.

Another method that Uei uses when teaching characters is to ask her students to write in the air with their body. Her students could use their head, shoulder, leg, foot, or even their bottom. The movement created, often dance-like, commits learners to a dynamic learning experience in another way, by performing physical activities.

In our interview, Uei stressed the importance of stimulating learners' sensory faculties in her teaching. The sense of touch in particular is essential for character learning. Uei prepares colored sand and furry fabric for her students to write on with their fingers. As with the rhythmic chorus and body movements above, the sensation of touching different materials serves as a mnemonic that effectuates the cognitive registration of the learning experience. Uei also asks her students to write with scented pens. She believes that this not only helps to invigorate the

sense of smell, but also suggests a comfortable environment, with the scents of coffee, milk, and fruit emitted from the pen further improving learning efficiency.

Among her pedagogical tenets, Uei posits that the core goal of language education is to enlighten learners with a new cultural perspective, and to motivate them to pursue their own aims independently. Following this, Uei encourages her students to create their own characters after first learning about Chinese etymology. She also provides calligraphy brushes and ink for the students to make artwork with characters, such as landscape paintings, drawing inspiration from the Chinese artist Wu Guanzhong 吴冠中 (1919–2010) and his character paintings.

Learning Characters the Self-Directed Way

At the Institute for Chinese Studies at the University of Oxford, undergraduate and graduate students are required to learn around 800 simplified characters in the first year of their modern Chinese language course. Undergraduates also need to learn a further 700 traditional characters for both modern and classical Chinese language study. This means that, for each active academic week, students need to memorize the pronunciations and meanings of 40–70 characters and, most onerously, learn how to write these characters blind.

The majority of the students at Oxford are ab initio or near-complete beginners when they start their course. They have weekly quizzes in class to test their character-learning progress. Other than this, minimal class time is dedicated to character learning per se. How do students manage to routinely learn a substantial amount of characters on their own in addition to completing their other academic work? In search of answers, from 2011 to 2014, I invited students to keep a dated character-learning journal for their first academic year.

In total, 53 undergraduate and 26 graduate students started to write this journal. Twenty-seven of these students completed all 10 logs, with six logs for the first term (October to December) and two logs apiece for the second and third terms (January to March and April to June). On average, each student wrote seven logs. In the journal, students were instructed to write openly about their feelings in relation to character learning and how they went about learning the vast number of characters required each week. In this section, I will discuss findings relevant to our aim of providing pragmatic information on teaching and learning Chinese characters. Extensive excerpts from the journals can be found at www.ctcfl.ox.ac.uk under the title *The Oxford Character Learning Logs*.

Participants reported using a combination of learning strategies from both the traditional and the modern methods discussed earlier. They started learning a new character by writing it on a piece of paper several times in accordance with the correct stroke order. Some participants stressed that mindless repetition is not conducive to positive learning outcomes. Instead they would analyze the composition of the character as they wrote, make mental links between its different elements, and then say the pronunciation and the meaning of the character aloud. Other participants described two stages in their initial learning, a passive stage, where one writes out characters numerous times, and an active stage, where one visualizes, recalls, contextualizes, and utilizes the target characters. Most participants preferred to make use of modern technologies with the e-flashcard and testing modes that some character-learning apps provide. They believed that these functions help to streamline the learning process in conjunction with already-installed vocabulary lists. The SRS system and the randomly assigned testing sequences from the learning apps were also pivotal in helping them to commit the characters to long term memory.

Another important finding from the journal data is that many study participants note the use of metacognitive strategies. Flavell (1979: 906) describes metacognition as ‘cognition about cognitive phenomena’, more commonly understood as thinking about thinking. The keywords

associated with metacognitive strategies are, for instance, *planning*, *monitoring*, *self-regulating*, *checking*, *evaluating*, and *compensating* (see e.g. Brown et al. 1983; O'Malley and Chamot 1990). These words all suggest actions of a reflective and executive nature. In the context of our study, we looked for metacognitive strategies used by the students in managing their character-learning process.

One outstanding result is that many of the participants would voluntarily make changes to their learning approach and consciously check the effectiveness of this approach. For instance, some students reported that having tried to learn all assigned characters during one block of several hours in a weekend day, they later came to understand that it would be better to do their learning over a series of small sessions, such as for 30 minutes a day, but every day over the course of the week. Some students at first learned the assigned characters right before their weekly test, but then realized that this was not beneficial even with respect to their performance in the imminent test. They concluded that starting the learning process earlier in the week and revising regularly was the most effective method. Some students also talked about the importance of prioritizing character learning over other academic tasks such as essay writing, an approach that they had dismissed before.

It is also worth noting that participants frequently demonstrated a full awareness of their learning goals, as well as an awareness of what needed to be done in order to achieve these goals and knowledge of what was expected from them. When they felt less confident about their performance, they would scrutinize areas of inadequacy in their learning approach and make plans for improvement. For instance, one student wrote, '*character decay is starting to become a problem. I have now shifted the focus from learning this week's characters to revising the old ones as well (more emphasis on that)*'. Similarly, many expressed that they encountered difficulty in memory retention and discussed response strategies, such as using every spare moment to practice, having a better routine, targeting particular characters, and generally revising more frequently.

We also observed a strong affective factor in the students' learning experience. One summarized this well, stating, '*character learning moves between satisfaction and frustration*'. Students generally recounted that learning characters is an emotional journey. Some found the process very challenging, even unachievable, particularly during the initial weeks. Others wrote about their frustration when struggling to remember characters effectively or when beginning to experience forms of memory attrition. Nevertheless, students also recorded episodes of joy, reward, and pride, experienced more frequently in the second and third academic terms. These reports revealed the painstaking nature of a mission as rigorous as that of learning characters, as well as the necessity of drawing on inspiration and conscientiously committing to hard work in the long run.

Teaching Characters

Shen and Ke (2007) argue strongly for the importance of *radical awareness* in teaching Chinese characters. Here, they define *radical awareness* as a 'functional understanding of the role of radicals in forming characters and the ability to use this knowledge consciously in learning characters' (*ibid.*, 99). According to Shen (2005), CFL learners find orthographic knowledge-based strategies most useful in learning characters. These strategies include visualizing the graphic structure of the character and making use of the phonetic and semantic information in radicals. Wang, Perfetti and Liu (2003) and (2004) conclude that, although the implicit learning of radicals and their positional properties does take place during the process of character acquisition, explicit instruction is necessary to speed up the process and raise learners' awareness. Chen (2011), quoted in Jiang and Cohen (2012), also reports the positive impact of explicit instructions

regarding the componential features of characters. These studies suggest the need for teachers to train CFL learners on what we might call *character anatomy*. This training might include a general discussion on character etymology, explanations of the structural attributes of target characters, the enumeration of the semantic and phonological components in characters, and the provision of purpose-designed exercises, such as exercises on distinguishing characters with similar features.

If classroom time allows, teachers could consider presenting characters in both visual and verbal forms, adding images and animations where possible. As studies by Kuo and Hooper (2004), Jin (2006), Zhu (2010), and Shen (2010) all demonstrate, these practices all have an immediate and positive effect on character recognition. In particular, Shen (2010) calls for pedagogical attention to the facilitative role that imaginaries play in improving the memory retention of abstract words. However, Kuo and Hooper (2004) also find that students using self-generated mnemonics outperform groups who learn with visual and/or verbal mnemonics, indicating the merit of personalized memory aids in learning characters.

There are also studies that investigate the optimum timing for presenting characters. For instance, Packard (1990) appeals for a delayed presentation of characters in the curriculum; it has been shown that participants who start to learn characters three weeks after being introduced to Pinyin see benefits for their oral language skills. Chung (2007), on the other hand, advocates that characters be presented five seconds earlier than, as opposed to simultaneously with, their Pinyin and English translation, for the improved acquisition of target words. Acknowledging the significance in these findings, teachers are advised to appraise the practicality of their course(s) and determine possible ways to manipulate the timing of character exposure, both in the classroom and across the entire course.

Zhao and Jiang (2002) and Ma (2007) both stress the effectiveness of contextualizing characters as a learning strategy. Successful learners try to put characters to use both in their exercise and in daily life. When learning, they write their own example sentences using the target characters. Some learners also write diaries and make notes using characters as a self-initiated method of writing practice. Teachers might advise their students to use such strategies, or even assign real-life tasks such as writing messages to a friend on social media (by typing or by touch-screen handwriting), which not only helps learners to practice characters, but also motivates them by developing their sense of using the written Chinese script in real life.

Last but not least, both Shen (2005) and the aforementioned Oxford study demonstrate the importance of using metacognitive strategies in learning Chinese characters. In Shen (2005), students at more advanced levels perceive metacognitive strategies involving structured pre-views and reviews of characters before and after classes as more useful than many other strategies. In the Oxford study, metacognitive thinking appears extremely frequently in the students' routine journals about their character learning experience. In order to fulfill the demanding weekly tasks and maintain long-term progress in character learning, the Oxford students would constantly perform self-evaluations about their learning outcomes and adjust their learning approach accordingly. These students are aware that they need to plan their learning well and sufficiently in advance, as well as be strategic in revising previously learnt characters so as to minimize memory attrition. Students generally express a need to feel in control; as one writes in the early weeks of term, *'stress levels have gone through the roof but hopefully if these techniques work I will feel in control of my work again'*. Many write later in the year that character learning has become easier to manage. These studies show that to achieve a long-term learning goal like writing characters, organization, and self-evaluation skills are essential, as is the strength to overcome challenges and execute plans. In this sense, the teacher's role not only entails teaching characters per se, but also helping students develop autonomy in their independent learning.

Teachers can prepare students by laying out the difficulties, briefing them on useful strategies, allocating class time to demonstrate how to learn characters at home, arranging regular class quizzes to incentivize students, and encouraging students to try out various methods and reflect on their learning progress and outcomes.

Conclusion

The scope of character teaching and the tasks involved vary significantly according to differences in course requirements and students' needs. Some courses focus merely on spoken Chinese and barely address the learning of characters and writing. Other courses only require learners to recognize character meanings, allowing students to input characters on computers using Pinyin, instead of requiring them to handwrite on paper. And there are also courses, like the exemplar Oxford course described in the section *Learning Characters the Self-Directed Way*, that demand a comprehensive character-learning process. In spite of the realities faced on any course, a curriculum for teaching and learning Chinese must not overlook the value in introducing CFL learners to the information given in the earlier section *Learning about Characters*, which introduces significant cultural elements that speak to the functionality of the Chinese language. Courses interested in offering a different and more stimulating learning experience could try Uei's innovative methods, introduced in the section *Learning Characters the Creative Way*.

The studies mentioned in *Teaching Characters* offer an array of pedagogical choices to CFL teachers, from providing etymological knowledge and enriched presentation to training on learning strategies and autonomy development. These studies reinforce teachers' active role in instructing character learning despite their course realities. Future studies could focus on the effectiveness of strategy training, particularly metacognitive strategies, in learning characters. A holistic approach combining both traditional and innovative learning also needs further investigation in order for us to gain a better understanding of a task as challenging and intriguing as that of learning Chinese characters.

References

English References

- Boltz, W. (1994) *The Origin and Early Development of the Chinese Writing System*. New Haven, CT: American Oriental Society.
- Brown, A. L., Bransford, J. D., Ferrara, R. A. and Campione, J. C. (1983) 'Learning, remembering, and understanding'. In J. H. Flavell and E. M. Markman (eds.), *Handbook of Child Psychology (Vol 1): Cognitive Development*, 77–166. New York: Wiley.
- Chung, K. H. (2007) 'Presentation factors in the learning of Chinese characters: The order and position of Hanyu pinyin and English translations'. *Educational Psychology* 27(1): 1–20.
- Flavell, J. H. (1979) 'Metacognition and cognitive monitoring: A new area of cognitive-developmental inquiry'. *America Psychologist* 34: 906–911.
- Grenfell, M. and Harris, V. (2015) 'Memorisation strategies and the adolescent learner of Mandarin Chinese as a foreign language'. *Linguistics and Education* 31: 1–13.
- Heisig, J. W. and Richardson, T. W. (2009) *Remembering Simplified Hanzi: How Not to Forget the Meaning and Writing of Chinese Characters*. Honolulu: University of Hawai'i Press.
- Jiang, X. and Cohen, A. (2012) 'A critical review of research on strategies in learning Chinese as both a second and foreign language'. *Studies in Second Language Learning and Teaching* 2(1): 9–43.
- Jin, H. H. (2006) 'Multimedia effects and Chinese character processing: An empirical study of CFL learners from three different orthographic backgrounds'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 41(3): 35–56.

- Kuo, M. A. and Hooper, S. (2004) 'The effects of visual and verbal mnemonics on learning Chinese characters in computer-based instruction'. *Educational Technology Research and Development* 52(3): 23–38.
- Matthews, A. and Matthews, L. (2007) *Learning Chinese Characters: A Revolutionary New Way to Learn and Remember the 800 Most Basic Chinese Characters*. Singapore: Tuttle Publishing House.
- McGinnis, S. (1999) 'Student goals and approaches'. In M. Chu (ed.), *Mapping the Course of the Chinese Language Field: Chinese Language Teachers Association Monograph Series*, 151–175. Vol III, Kalamazzo, MI: Chinese Language Teachers Association Inc.
- Norman, J. (1988) *Chinese*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- O'Malley, J. M. and Chamot, A. U. (1990) *Learning Strategies in Second Language Acquisition*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Packard, L. J. (1990) 'Effect of time lag in the introduction of characters into the Chinese language curriculum'. *The Modern Language Journal* 74(2): 167–175.
- Shen, H. H. (2005) 'An investigation of Chinese-character learning strategies among non-native speakers of Chinese'. *System* 33(1): 49–61.
- Shen, H. H. (2010) 'Imagery and verbal coding approaches in Chinese vocabulary instruction'. *Language Teaching Research* 14(4): 485–499.
- Shen, H. H. and Ke, C. (2007) 'Radical awareness and word acquisition among non-native learners of Chinese'. *The Modern Language Journal* 91(1): 97–111.
- Taylor, I. and Taylor, M. (2014) *Writing and Literacy in Chinese, Korean and Japanese*. Amsterdam: John Benjamins Publishing Company.
- Wang, M., Liu, Y. and Perfetti, C. (2004) 'The implicit and explicit learning of orthographic structure and function of a new writing system'. *Scientific Studies of Reading* 8(4): 357–379.
- Wang, M., Perfetti, C. and Liu, Y. (2003) 'Alphabetic readers quickly acquire orthographic structure in learning to read Chinese'. *Scientific Studies of Reading* 7(2): 183–208.

Chinese References

- Chen, Jing, 陈静 (2011) '初中阶段泰国留学生汉字部件学习策略实验研究' (An Experimental Study on Chinese Character Learning Strategies Used by Beginner and Intermediate Level Thai Students), Unpublished Master Dissertation. Chengdu: South West University.
- Chinese Language Reform Committee 中国文字改革委员会 (1956) 汉字简化方案 (Character Simplification Scheme). Beijing: The People's Education Press.
- Chinese Language Reform Committee 中国文字改革委员会 (1964) 简化字总表 (List of Simplified Characters). Beijing: The Language Reform Press.
- Chinese Language Reform Committee 中国文字改革委员会 (1965) 印刷通用汉字字形表 (List of Standard Typeface for Chinese Characters). Beijing: Ministry of Culture of People's Republic of China and Language Reform Commission.
- Fu, Yong-He, 傅永和 (1986) '汉字的整理和简化' (Character standardization and simplification). 语文建设 (Language Planning) Z1: 29–34.
- Ma, Ming-Yan, 马明艳 (2007) '初级阶段非汉字圈留学生汉字学习策略的个案研究' (A case study of character learning strategies by a cfl learner from non-character language background). 世界汉语教学 (Chinese Teaching in the World) 1: 40–49.
- Pan, Wen-Guo, Yip, Po-Ching and Han, Yang, 潘文國, 葉步清, 韓洋 (1993) 漢語的構詞法研究 (Studies about Word Formation in Chinese). Taiwan: Student Book Co., Ltd.
- Shi, Zheng-Yu, 施正宇 (2007) 原原本本说汉字—汉字溯源六百例 (Tracing the Origins of Chinese Characters: 600 Examples of Etymology). Beijing: Beijing University Press.
- State Language Commission 国家语言文字工作委员会 (1988a) 现代汉语常用字表 (List of Commonly Used Characters in Modern Chinese). Beijing: The Language & Culture Press.
- State Language Commission 国家语言文字工作委员会 (1988b) 现代汉语通用字表 (List of Standardly Used Characters in Modern Chinese). Beijing: State Language Commission and General Administration of Press and Publication.

- State Language Commission 国家语言文字工作委员会 (2008) 现代汉语常用词表 (草案) (Draft List of Commonly Used Words in Modern Chinese). Shanghai: The Commercial Press.
- Tan, Huay-Peng. 陈火平 (1999) 趣味汉字 (What's in a Chinese Character). Beijing: New World Press.
- Yin, Jing-Hua. 印京华 (2003) '美国大学生记忆汉字时使用的方法-问卷调查报告' (A survey report on the strategies of American students memorizing Chinese characters). 美国中文教师学会学报 (Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association) 38(3): 69-90.
- Zhao, Guo and Jiang, Xin. 赵果, 江新 (2002) '什么样的汉字学习策略最有效?' (What is the most effective strategy for learning Chinese characters?: A survey among CSL beginners). 语言文字应用 (Applied Linguistics) 2: 79-85.
- Zhou, You-Guang. 周有光 (1978) '现代汉字中声旁的表音问题' (Sound components in modern Chinese characters). 中国语文 (Studies of the Chinese Language) 3: 173-177.
- Zhu, Yu. 朱宇 (2010) '再探电子抽认卡对美国汉语初学者汉字记忆的影响' (Rediscovering the impacts of digital flashcard on Chinese character memorization of beginning US learners). 世界汉语教学 (Chinese Teaching in the World) 1: 127-137.

Analysis on Models of Teaching Spoken Chinese as a Foreign Language

Meiru Liu

Introduction

According to Cora and Knight (2006), speaking is a crucial part of second language learning and teaching which involves producing, receiving, and processing information. It is the means through which learners can communicate with others to achieve certain goals, to express their opinions, intentions, hopes, and viewpoints, to share and exchange information, ideas, and emotion. In addition, people who know a language are referred to as ‘speakers’ of that language. Speaking a foreign language is one of the most important linguistic and communicative requirements of the four skills (listening, speaking, reading, and writing) and is a central skill (Bailey and Savage 1994: vii) and the main tool of human communication. As Rivers (1981) argues, speaking is used twice as much as reading and writing in our communication. Thus developing and improving speaking skills is of vital importance in the teaching of a foreign language.

Chinese as a Foreign Language (CFL) learners may have difficulty in speaking fluent and accurate Chinese, for their speaking competence is likely to be influenced by cognitive, linguistic, and affective factors. In fact, Chinese language learners often regard speaking ability as the measure of knowing the language and the most important skill they can acquire. Likewise, teachers tend to assess their students’ progress in terms of their accomplishments in spoken communication. This chapter tries to explore, recognize, and define various models of teaching spoken Chinese with discussions and analyzes of the actual results in their application in teaching spoken Chinese at various levels. Effective models coupled with pedagogical methods and examples will be presented, analyzed in light of SLA theories and the author’s teaching practice.

Theoretical Development and Practice of Spoken Language

In the field of Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language, a theory of language and language use, and a theory of language learning are believed as equally important, insofar as an effective learning environment requires an understanding of the knowledge, skills, and abilities that are being targeted as well as an idea of how learners’ development of speaking skill progresses. Challenging Chomsky characterized linguistic paradigm as knowledge of a formal system of abstract

grammatical rules (1965), Hymes proposed the concept of communicative competence, which includes grammatical competence as one of its parts, but also includes rules of appropriateness (1970). The sentences produced by students in class may be grammatically correct but situationally inappropriate. It has been frequently observed that many of our students can perform quite well in a controlled classroom environment, but have difficulty in transferring this ability to new situations which require spontaneous, real-life communication. TCFL involves developing the ability to produce correct sentences, but that is not the only ability that students need to acquire. Knowing Chinese means knowing how to understand, speak, read, and write Chinese sentences; it also means knowing how Chinese sentences are used to communicate effectively. The distinction between usage and use (Widdowson 1978) is related to de Saussure's distinction between *langue* and *parole* and Chomsky's similar distinction between competence and performance (Allen, Brierley and Corder 1975; Wilkins 1972). When we select structures and vocabulary for courses in spoken Chinese, we select those items of usage which we judge to be most effective for teaching the underlying rules of the language system. Usage, then, is one aspect of performance. It makes evident the extent to which students demonstrate their ability to use their knowledge of linguistic rules for effective communication.

In teaching structured language, the basic unit of instruction is the sentence with its grammatical constituents of Noun Phrase, Verb Phrase, Determiner, Auxiliary, Adverbial, etc. In a communicative curriculum the emphasis is not on the formal aspects of sentence structure but on the meaning that is being conveyed by the use of sentences.

Traditional methodologies for teaching spoken Chinese have a quite restricted view of what constitutes spoken language and speaking (Shrum and Glisan 1994). To take one example, the audiolingual method (ALM)¹ was revolutionary in its day for, among other things, giving greater priority to listening and speaking skills than to reading and writing. However, in actual practice 'speaking' is usually interpreted as repeating after the teacher or the recording, as reciting memorized dialogues or texts, as responding to pattern drills, as simply orally reproducing what is read, listened, and watched, or as practicing cleverly constructed but rather mechanical pronunciation and grammar drills. Learners had few opportunities to use the language for expressing their own meanings in real-world communications.

One successor to the ALM was cognitive code learning (CCL), which advocated more use of the target language and more opportunities for learners to use the language creatively. Ever since CCL emerged in the 1980s, it is still recognized today as one of the most popular and most adopted communicative methods of teaching spoken Chinese. CCL has changed views of syllabuses and approaches as teaching spoken Chinese is continuing to shape methods to teaching students' skills in spoken Chinese today, and has replaced grammar-based ones such as ALM. CCL is built around notions, functions, skills, tasks, and other non-grammatical approaches, and teaching spoken Chinese for developing and improving students' fluency has become the goal of teaching so that students are encouraged and required to speak in real-world communicative settings in spite of the fact that these students are still limited in proficiency in Chinese.

Structured Linguistic Model in Training Speaking Skills

Of the four basic language skills: listening, speaking, reading, and writing, speaking is most important for any students, especially at the elementary and post-elementary level. While it is impossible to take part in discussions on academic topics or topics for speech and presentations, elementary- and post-elementary level students must first be trained to use patterns in carefully graded oral drills, and be given tasks with basic training exercises such as vocabulary and/or structures. That way the students will finally be able to learn to speak and develop skills that

will enable the accomplishment of communicative and real-world tasks when they move up to intermediate and advanced levels.

But how can we know when we are conducting structured linguistic language training and teaching for communication purpose? What makes a language activity ‘communicative’ and ‘real’? Taylor, B. P. (1983) identifies five features of real communication:

1. Participants deal with stretches of spontaneous language above the sentence level.
2. One of the major purposes of communication is to bridge an information gap.
3. Speakers have a choice not only of what they will say, but also of how they will say it.
4. Speakers have a goal in mind while they are speaking—usually the successful completion of some kind of real task.
5. Both speaker and hearer must attend to many factors quickly and at the same time.

Progressive Patterns

According to Alexander and Tadman (1973), patterns in any target language fall into two categories, one is progressive and the other is static. Teaching how to ask questions and how to give answers involves the use of progressive patterns because the students’ speaking skills in handling these linguistically complex patterns need be developed over a relatively long period of time, starting with a simple answer such as ‘Yes, it is’, ‘No, it does not’ and culminating in relatively complex response such as ‘Yes, I do, don’t I’, ‘No, it isn’t, is it?’

Thus the teacher can help the students practice the progressive patterns by adopting comprehension exercises that require the latter to do questions and answers with increasing complexity as the learning and practice proceeds. The teacher should train the student to give tag answers; make both affirmative and negative statements in order to answer double alternative questions joined by ‘or’; to answer general ‘Wh’ questions that begin with question words such as Where, When, Why, Which, Who, What, etc. At this elementary and post-elementary stage, teachers should train students to ask themselves questions and require that students practice this type of pattern in each lesson for several lessons, to say the least.

Al-Issa and Al-Qubtan (2010) divided speaking and oral presentation into two types: guided and free. They stated that guided speaking is used with lower-level students’ language proficiency level. Language skill tasks in the form of modeling and pattern drilling are basic training exercises with a focus on vocabulary and/or structures. Although not real-world communicative- and task-based yet, a language skill task can be blended with target tasks using practical considerations that enhance the learner’s speaking skill and lay a solid oral foundation for the accomplishment of communicative and real-world tasks later on (Guan 2006).

Below are some language task examples:

Example 1: Training the student to ask questions which are given in pairs:

老师：(请问我问题)：他是不是出去了？/他是什么时候出去的？/他是跟谁出去的？他去哪儿了？他是怎么出去的？/为什么出去？(Teacher (Ask me a question): Did he go out?/When did he go out? With whom? Where did he go? How did he get out? Why did he go out?)

学生：他出去了吗？他出没出去？他出去了没有？他出去了，是吗？他是不是出去了？他是什么时候出去的？他为什么出去？他是跟谁出去的？他去哪儿了？他是怎么出去的？

(Student: Did he go out? Did he go or not go out? He went out, didn't he? He was out, wasn't he? Did he not go out?/When did he go out? Why did he go out? Who did he go out with? Where did he go? How did he go out?)

Example 2: Transformation and Response Drills: students convert teacher's choice-type question into a negative statement of alternatives using yě (either/neither) and then give a positive answer:

请问，你在耐克公司工作还是在英特尔公司工作？

(May I ask, do you work at Nike or Intel?)

我不在耐克公司工作，也不在英特尔公司工作，我在微软公司工作。

(I work neither at Nike nor at Intel. I work at Microsoft.)

请问，你是耐克公司国际部的总裁还是总经理？

(Are you President or General Manager of International Department at Nike?)

我不是总裁也不是总经理，我是耐克公司国际部的助理经理。

(I'm neither President nor General Manager. I'm Assistant Manager of International Department at Nike.)

Example 3: Fluency and speed drills (Liu 2006):

Questions:

谁？

找谁？

你找谁？

你要找谁？

小姐，你要找谁？

请问，小姐，你要找谁？

请问，小姐，你要找王先生吗？

请问，小姐，你要找耐克公司的王先生吗？

请问，小姐，你要找耐克公司亚洲部的王先生吗？

请问，小姐，你要找耐克公司亚洲部的总经理王先生吗？

请问，小姐，你要找美国耐克公司亚洲部的总经理王先生吗？

请问，小姐，你要找美国俄勒冈州耐克公司亚洲部的总经理王先生吗？

请问，小姐，你要找美国俄勒冈州波特兰市耐克公司亚洲部的总经理王先生吗？

Who?

Looking for who?

Who are you looking for?

Who do you want to look for?

Miss, who do you want to look for?

May I ask, Miss, who are you looking for?

May I ask, Miss, are you looking for Mr Wang?

May I ask, Miss, are you looking for Mr Wang at Nike?

May I ask, Miss, are you looking for Mr Wang of Asian Dept. at Nike?

May I ask, Miss, are you looking for GM Mr Wang of Asian Dept. at Nike?

May I ask, Miss, are you looking for GM Mr Wang of Asian Dept. at Nike?

May I ask, Miss, are you looking for GM Mr Wang of Asian Dept. at Nike in the USA?

May I ask, Miss, are you looking for GM Mr Wang of Asian Dept. at Nike in Oregon USA?

May I ask, Miss, are you looking for GM Mr Wang of Asian Dept. at Nike in Portland Oregon USA?

One can accomplish the following tasks based on the above pyramid exercises: tongue exercises; fluency practice; review of different types of questions and learn how to answer them; learn to remember these sentences without memorizing mechanically.

Answers:

先生

王先生

找王先生

要找王先生

我要找王先生

我要找耐克的王先生

我要找耐克公司的王先生

我要找耐克公司亚洲部的王先生

我要找耐克公司亚洲部的总经理王先生

我要找美国耐克公司亚洲部的总经理王先生

我要找美国俄勒冈州耐克公司亚洲部的总经理王先生

我要找美国俄勒冈州波特兰市耐克公司亚洲部的总经理王先生

Mister

Mr Wang

Look for Mr Wang

Want to look for Mr Wang

I want to look for Mr Wang

I want to look for Mr Wang of Nike

I want to look for Mr Wang of Nike Corporation

I want to look for Mr Wang of Asian Dept. at Nike Corporation

I want to look for GM. Mr Wang of Asian Dept. at Nike Corporation

I want to look for GM. Mr Wang of Asian Dept. at Nike Corporation in the US

I want to look for GM. Mr Wang of Asian Dept. at Nike Corporation in Oregon US

I want to look for GM. Mr Wang of Asian Dept. at Nike Corporation in Portland Oregon US

Oral Reproduction in Training Speaking Chinese

Oral reproduction in TCFL means new accounts or adaptations of a text that allow students to consider information and then summarize orally what they understand about this information.

It requires that students process large segments of text, think about the sequence of ideas or events and their importance. Inviting students to orally reproduce what they have just heard or read is a powerful way of checking for understanding and for training their effective skills in speaking and communicating (Hansen 2004; Shaw 2005). Learning a foreign language requires memorization, but memorization does not mean to learn by rote. Oral reproduction consists of two good forms of training in spoken Chinese. One is to reproduce after what is heard from the teacher, from the selected recording by native speakers, and from what is watched from video clips whose content fits the level of the learner. The other one is to reproduce after what is read, such as regular books, picture books, passages, etc. While students are trained and developing speaking skills to a higher level beyond the basics, they can improve listening and reading comprehension as well as their memory at the same time.

One of the commonly adopted speaking skill development forms is detailed reproduction, which requires that the students give detailed and specific oral reproduction according to the order and content of the text. At present, this form is being used mostly in K-12 CFL classes. This kind of oral reproduction can help the students gradually master the content of the text, which is conducive to strengthening and promoting students' learning, and which is of great benefit to the development of students' memory ability as well as ability in coherent thinking and expression. Detailed oral reproduction can be adopted in different ways according to different content:

- a. Fulcrum method, also known as the Keyword Method, is an effective system for remembering definitions, learning foreign-language vocabulary, and more.
- b. Clue method with which the teacher lists the outline as a memory cue for the students to form a memory network according to the sequence of the passage or the level of plot development;
- c. Visual method which presents the abstract teaching content vividly to the students through pictures and drawings so that the students can reproduce them with interest, and leave a long memory in their mind, and thus can help students to 'recognize' and 'recall'.²

The teacher requires that the students carry on a conversation based on information in the given passage and encourages the students to reproduce orally as much as they can remember of the content they have heard.

Example (Liu 2006): Expansion Drill to help students recognize, comprehend, and be able to recall the content information in forms of questions and answers, conversation and reproduction of the content within the shortest possible time while speaking as fast as they can:

中文
 学习中文
 他学习中文
 他在华大学习中文
 他在华大跟老师学习中文
 他在华大跟中文老师学习中文
 他在华大跟从中国来的老师学习中文
 他在华大跟从中国来的中文老师学习中文
 他在西雅图华大跟从中国来的中文老师学习中文

他在华盛顿西雅图华大跟从中国来的中文老师学习中文

他在华盛顿州西雅图市华大跟从中国来的中文老师学习中文

他在美国华盛顿州西雅图市华大跟从中国来的中文老师学习中文

他不在美国华盛顿州西雅图市华大跟从中国来的中文老师学习中文

他不在美国华盛顿州西雅图市华大跟从中国来的中文老师学习中文吗？

他在不在美国华盛顿州西雅图市华盛顿大学跟从中国来的中文老师学习中文？

他是在美国华盛顿州西雅图市华盛顿大学跟从中国北京来的中文老师学习中文

还是在美国密苏里州圣路易斯市华盛顿大学跟从中国天津来的中文老师学习中文？

Chinese

Learning Chinese

He is learning Chinese

He is learning Chinese at UW

He is learning Chinese with a teacher at UW

He is learning Chinese with a Chinese teacher at UW

He is learning Chinese with a teacher from China at UW

He is learning Chinese with a Chinese teacher from China in UW

He is learning Chinese with a Chinese teacher from China at UW in Seattle

He is learning Chinese with a Chinese teacher from China at UW in Seattle, Washington

He is learning Chinese with a Chinese teacher from China at UW in Seattle City, Washington State, USA

He is not learning Chinese with a Chinese teacher from China at UW in Seattle City, Washington State, USA

Is he or is he not learning Chinese with a Chinese teacher from China at UW in Seattle City, Washington State, USA?

Is he learning Chinese language with a Chinese teaching from Beijing China at UW in Seattle City, Washington State, USA?

Or is he learning Chinese language with a Chinese teacher from Beijing China at WU in St. Louis City, Missouri State, USA?

Recall the information from the above message: Students, close the book and see who can answer the following questions, carry on a conversation and be able to reproduce the content of the above drilling:

1. 他/她学习什么？ What does he/she learn?
2. 他/她学习什么文？ What language does he/she learn?
3. 他/她跟谁学习中文？ Who does he/she learn Chinese with?
4. 他/她学习中文还是日文？ Does he/she learn Chinese or Japanese?
5. 他/她跟哪个老师学习中文？ Which teacher does he/she learn Chinese from?
6. 他/她在哪儿学习中文？ Where does he/she learn Chinese?
7. 他/她哪个大学学习中文？ Which university does he/she learn Chinese?
8. 他/她的大学在什么州？ 什么市？ 什么国家？ What state is his/her university in? What city? What country?
9. 他/她跟中国北京还是中国台湾来的中文老师学习中文？ Does he/she learn Chinese with Chinese teacher from Beijing China or Taiwan China?
10. 他/她在华盛顿州的华盛顿大学学习中文还是在密苏里州的华盛顿大学学习中文？ Does he/she learn Chinese at Washington University in the State of Washington or at Washington University in the State of Missouri?

Teachers' Role in Training Students' Speaking Skills Through Oral Reproduction

Question Reminder Method

From time to time students may get stuck and have a hard time reproducing an assigned passage or text. If they do not know enough of the sequence and details in the reproduction, teachers should help motivate them gradually from these questions by providing structurally and linguistically helpful guidance or hints to help students with a smooth process of oral production.

Example:

Who is in the story?

When does the story take place?

Where does the story take place?

What is the main character in the story?

How/why does s/he try to solve the problem in this story?

How does the problem in a story get solved?

How does the story end?

Can you end the story differently? Why or why not?

Think-Pair-Share Method

Think-Pair-Share is a cooperative discussion strategy that allows students to discuss their oral reproduction with a peer before sharing with the whole class. Developed by Frank Lyman (1981) and colleagues, there are three stages of student action: 1) Think. The teacher engages students' thinking with a question, prompt, reading, listening, visual, or observation. The students should take a few minutes (not seconds) just to think about the question. 2) Pair. Using designated partners, students pair up to discuss their respective reproduction passage. They compare their thoughts and identify the content they think gives the best, most comprehensive and accurate. 3) Share. After students talk in pairs for a few moments, the teacher asks pairs to share their reproduced passage with the rest of the class. Naturally, there are opportunities to check for understanding throughout the Think-Pair-Share activity. The teacher can listen in as pairs discuss their responses and can note the ways in which pairs share their responses.

The purpose of using the method in a CFL classroom is for students to think individually about a topic or answer to a question. It teaches students to share ideas with classmates and builds oral communication skills, and helps focus attention and engage students in comprehending the reading material. Before starting Think-Pair-Share method, the teacher need to 1) decide upon the text to be read and develop the set of questions or prompts that target key content concepts; 2) describe the purpose of the strategy and provide guidelines for discussions; 3) model the procedure to ensure that students understand how to use the strategy; and 4) Monitor and support students as they work through the three-step process.

Example:

After the students read or listen to a text about the Great Wall, the teacher can ask the class, “中国古代为什么建造长城”“*Why did the ancient Chinese build the Great Wall?*”

让我们来做一个“思考-配对-分享”。每个人都花点时间思考这个问题。

Let's do a "think-pair-share." Everyone take a moment and think about the question.

The room is silent for a minute while everyone reflects and may be putting together language and content concepts. Next the teacher instructs the students,

现在转向你旁边的人，告诉他们你在想什么。*Now turn to the person next to you and tell them what you are thinking.*

Each student has an opportunity to offer his/her idea in a relatively comfortable setting—perhaps with grammatical errors—or to get more information from the partner. This can reinforce the student's confidence in their thinking and provide modeling for how to say the idea correctly in Chinese. The teacher lets students share for a couple of minutes and then brings their attention back.

好吧，我听到了很多好主意。谁来分享一下你们谈论的是什么？

Okay, I heard lots of good ideas. Who would like to share what you talked about?

At this point, when students offer an answer, they have had some time to work with the concepts and also may feel that they are not offering the idea 'on their own' but as part of a pair, which may not seem so intimidating.

A benefit of the think-pair-share method is that the teacher has an opportunity to hear from many students—including the 'quiet' ones who offer wonderful answers after they had an opportunity to do a think-pair-share. It also gives the teacher the opportunity to observe all students as they interact in pairs and get an idea of whether all students understand the content or if there are areas that need to be reviewed.

Theory of Communicative Language Teaching

Communicative Language Teaching (CLT) focuses teaching on language use rather than language usage. Repeated practice using pattern drills only emphasizes the form rather than the application of the target language. By practicing these pattern drills, students are linguistically confined within a small domain of school activities and life. Once they are exposed to the outside world and attempt to apply the language in an interactive and communicative way, they find themselves linguistically 'disabled' and at a loss what to say and how to interact.

CLT is an approach to the teaching of second and foreign languages with an emphasis on interaction as both the means and ultimate goal of learning a target language. It is based on the linguistic theory of communicative competence and the idea that learning language successfully comes through having to communicate real meaning. The conceptual basis for CLT was laid by Michael Halliday (1973), who studied how language functions are expressed through grammar, and Dell Hymes (1970), who introduced the idea of a wider communicative competence instead of Chomsky's narrower linguistic competence. Afterwards, British applied linguists such as David A. Wilkins, Henry Widdowson, Christopher Candlin, Christopher Brumfit, Keith Johnson, emphasized another fundamental dimension of language teaching—the functional and communicative potential of language. 'They saw the need that language teaching should focus on communicative proficiency rather than on mere mastery of structures' (Richards and Rodgers 1986: 64), and that learning language successfully comes through having to communicate

real meaning. According to the communicative approach, in order for learning to take place, emphasis must be put on the importance of three values: 1) Communication: activities that involve real communication to promote learning; 2) Tasks: activities in which language is used to carry out meaningful tasks support the learning process; 3) Meaning: language that is meaningful and authentic to the learner boosts learning.³

Communicative Models and Approaches in Training Speaking

Speaking Performance Models

Speaking performance is about how students produce the target language orally. According to Harmer (1984), speaking refers to the fact that the students produce pieces of language and see how it turns out that information is fed back into the acquisition process. Therefore, speaking focused on output where the learner's attention is on conveying ideas and messages to another person. As Jones (1996) comments, in speaking we tend to be getting something done, exploring ideas, working out some aspect of the world. It is about how the students express themselves. This is because the basic assumption in any oral interaction is that the speaker wants to communicate ideas, feelings, attitudes, and information to the hearer or wants to employ speech that relates to the real situation. Thus, being able to emulate patterned drilling and modeled sentences is not enough for real communication, students need to start giving discourse presentations beyond the structured sentence level by focusing on specific subjects, such as self-introduction, introduction of a classmate, a friend, family members, a teacher, to begin with, and then gradually move to a real-world communication mode, such as giving an introduction to a multinational corporation and its subordinate departments/business partner/colleague, China's economic geography and investment environment and opportunities, etc. At times students are required to use certain given connecting words so that their orally presented discourse will not only be grammatically correct, situationally appropriate, but also acceptable in real communication.

Speaking performance is a productive language skill. It involves the knowledge of language skill as discussed above and is also dependent on the rapid processing skill, which includes, but is not limited to: a) Language Production which involves the retrieval of words and phrase from memory and their assembly into syntactically and propositionally appropriate sequences. The speaking activities are aimed to help the students develop habits of rapid Chinese language processing skills; b) Interaction with others which forms face-to-face dialogue and therefore involves interaction. The speaking activities involve the students' interaction with the others and understanding each other; c) (on-the-spot) information processing that requires speaker to be able to process the information and response to the others' feeling in using the language.

When designing speaking activities the Function of Speaking is necessary to recognize the differences in functions of speaking. Brown and Yule's framework (Richards: 19–23) states a three-part version of the function of speaking: talk as interaction, talk as transaction, and talk as performance. It is described as follows:

Speaking as Interaction which refers to what we normally mean by 'conversation' in a primarily social function.

Speaking as Transaction which refers to situations where the focus is on what is said or done. The message and making oneself understood clearly and accurately is the central focus.

Speaking as performance which tends to be in the form of monologue rather than dialogue, often follows a recognizable format (e.g. a speech of welcome), and is closer to written language than conversational language.

Speaking as Interaction Model (SIM)

SIM focuses on the speaker as ‘people in conversation’. Features of interaction usually include creating social interaction and participants’ social needs as it requires two-way participation, causal or formal, which reflects speakers’ identity. Examples for training in this type of speaking skill include, but are not limited to: greetings, small talk and chit chat, recounting recent experiences and compliments. One rule for making small talk is to initiate interactions with a comment concerning something in the immediate vicinity or that both participants have knowledge of. The comment should elicit agreement since agreement is face-preserving and non-threatening. Students can initially be given the models to practice (Liu 2006):

A: 您是王先生吗？Are you Mr Wang?

B: 我是王商。请问，您是谁？I’m WANG Shang. May I ask who you are?

A: 我姓李，叫李经。My surname is LI, my name is LI Jing.

B: 您好，李小姐。How do you do, Miss Li.

A: 您好，王先生。欢迎您来中国。

How do you do, Mr Wang. Welcome to China.

B: 谢谢。我来介绍一下儿，这是我太太。

Thank you. Let me introduce to you, this is my wife.

A: 您好，王太太。How do you do, Mrs Wang?

B: 你好，李女士。认识您我很高兴。

How do you do, Miss? Li. I’m very glad to know you.

A: 认识您我也很高兴。I’m glad to know you, too.

Later, students can be given different situations in which smalls might be appropriate. They can then be asked to think of some real-world communicative small talk topics such as role-play in a real-world setting/context and then make comments and responses to each other’s speaking performance.

Example of the Speaking Interaction Model: The classroom is set as a trade fair. One business representative in a booth has a bearing on the exhibitor’s ability to build a relationship with other trade fair participants. Thus, face-to-face contact with many different visitors and potential partners of an enterprise is maintained, and it happens in a short time since a trade fair day is often action-packed, when ending one conversation at the booth, the business representative immediately starts another conversation with a potential future business partner and so on. The conversation should be kept going for a minute or two:

A: 您好！欢迎您来我们的展位。我叫王大伟。这是我的名片。

Hello! Welcome to our booth. My name is Wang Dawei. this is my name card.

B: 谢谢。我先了解一下儿贵公司的产品。

Thank you. I would like to learn and understand your company’s products first.

A: 好的，您慢慢儿看。有问题请联系我。

Ok, take your time. Please contact me if you have any questions

B: 好，我们先看看，然后再联系。非常感谢。

Good. We’ll take a look and get back to you later. Thank you very much.

A: 不客气。再见。You're welcome. Goodbye.

B: 再见。Goodbye.

After this brief conversation, the business representative will then greet another booth visitor and so on.

Speaking as Transaction Model (STM)

STM focuses on what is 'said' or 'done':

- a. information oriented, e.g. asking for directions; describing how to use something; sharing opinions and ideas; discussing plans.
- b. goods and services oriented, e.g. focus on achieving a goal or service, checking into a hotel; shopping; ordering a meal, etc.

Examples for STM activities include, but are not limited to: classroom group discussion and problem-solving activities; information-gap activities, role-plays, group discussions, making a telephone call to obtain needed information; asking someone for directions on the street; ordering food from a menu in a restaurant, etc. Features of STM focus on giving or obtaining information; getting goods and services; making oneself understood completely. Grammatical accuracy may not be a priority for this model.

Example for STM: role-play: the classroom is now set as a hotel lobby's concierge desk:

A: 请问，附近有没有不错的饭馆儿？

Excuse me, is there a good restaurant near here?

B: 有好几家呢。请问，您喜欢什么风味的？

Quite a few. What flavor would you like?

A: 我喜欢麻辣川菜，越辣越好。

I like spicy Sichuan food, the hotter and spicier, the better.

B: 我们酒店二楼就有一家地道的川菜馆儿。

There is a real Sichuan restaurant on the second floor of our hotel.

A: 是嘛。你知道饭馆儿的营业时间吗？

Really? Do you know when the restaurant is open?

B: 知道。午餐从上午11点半开到下午3点半；晚餐从下午5点开到晚上10点。

I know: lunch is at 11:00am to 3:00pm; The dinner is open from 5 p.m. to 10 p.m.

A: 太好了！您能不能告诉我这家川菜馆儿的价位和档次？

Great! Could you tell me the price and grade of this restaurant?

B: 中档价位，晚餐平均每位100元左右。

Middle price, dinner is about 100 yuan per person.

A: 非常感谢！Thank you very much!

B: 不客气。You're welcome.

Speaking as Performance Model (SPM)

SPM tends to be in the form of monologue rather than dialogue, often follows a recognizable format (e.g. a speech of welcome), and is closer to written language than conversational language. Similarly, it is often evaluated according to its effectiveness or impact on the listener, something that is unlikely to happen with talk as interaction or transaction. Examples of SPM

include, but are not limited to: conducting a class debate; giving a speech of welcome; making a sales promotion speech; giving a lecture, etc. When presenting a talk as performance, the speaker is asked to use an appropriate format, present information in an appropriate sequence, maintain audience engagement, use correct pronunciation and grammar, create an effect on the audience, use appropriate vocabulary and an appropriate opening and closing, etc.

Example: a requested one-minute self-introduction at a job interview

您好！我叫英平，来自美国俄勒冈州波特兰市，将于今年六月从波特兰州立大学毕业，专业为商务汉语。我曾在中国的苏州大学留学一年，也曾位于波特兰的耐克公司总部亚太进出口部实习了三个月。我学了四年中文，基础良好，已获国际汉语水平考试五级证书。我奉行态度决定一切的原则，相信只要踏踏实实，任劳任怨，努力做好自己的本职工作，服务好客户，并通过自己的不懈努力，一定会拥有出色的工作业绩。

Hello! My name is Ying Ping, from Portland, Oregon, USA. I will graduate from Portland State University in June this year, majoring in Business Chinese. I studied at Suzhou University in China for one year and also worked for three months at the Asia Pacific Import and Export Department at Nike Headquarters in Portland. I have studied Chinese for four years and have laid a good foundation. I have been awarded a certificate of Level 5 in the International Chinese Proficiency HSK⁴ Test. I follow the principle that attitude decides everything, I believe as long as I am hard working, have a down-to-earth working attitude, and strive to do my own work well, provide good customer service, through my own unremitting efforts, I will surely have excellent job performance.

Speaking With Cultural Appropriation Approach (CAA)

The linguist Robert Lado defines the goal of learning a foreign language as “the ability to not only use it, to understand its meanings and connotations, but also the ability to understand the speech and writing of natives of the target culture in terms of their great ideas and achievement” (Lado 1964: 25). Kramsch argues that the role of culture in language teaching is even more central, it is not just a fifth skill, but rather something that is ‘always in the background, right from day one’ (Kramsch 1993). Why is such an emphasis placed on culture? One important argument is that it is not enough just to have linguistic competence when communicating with someone in a foreign language. Each culture follows special rules regarding formal and informal address and conversational routines. In addition to memorizing vocabulary and grammar, anyone becoming proficient in a foreign language must know the sociocultural rules native speakers use when they communicate with one another. If someone argues that a language can be learned devoid of culture for mere functional or academic purposes, then what that person will end up with is the mere ability to function in the language as an outsider at the minimal level with no real appreciation for the people who use the language. Also, trying to avoid the culture of a language is actually rather hard to do if the learner wants to study the language to a thorough level and interact with its speakers. One simply cannot learn to speak and function in Chinese if one is not familiar with its underlying culture such as Confucius influence, protocols and etiquettes, without understanding of which it would be socially disastrous and detrimental to any business negotiation. For example, in Chinese culture, it can be considered rude for a junior to address their senior by the full name, that’s just the way Americans are brought up to address their seniors. As a formality, seniors should be addressed by their ‘title/surname’ on first contact and will continue doing so unless they insist otherwise.

Teaching and learning a foreign language is both extremely culture-relevant and culture-conscious. A cultural misunderstanding may possibly cause greater damage to business functions than a linguistic defect. Thus, in teaching spoken Chinese, the teacher should always integrate with cultural and protocols. When practicing greetings and introductions at a business meeting or negotiation, students should demonstrate Chinese ways of shaking hands, hand gestures, body language, business card exchange, eye contact, appropriate forms of address, and different ways of non-verbal communication. When practicing expressions of eating and drinking, students need to be introduced to dining and drinking etiquette, and table manners. This way the teacher can be able to make language learning a fun and creative process which is enjoyed by students.

Speaking Through Performed Culture Approach (PCA)

PCA can be interpreted as an approach to language speaking pedagogy which particularly fits the ‘role-oriented’⁵ cultures of China where communication events tend to accord with culturally established patterns that are different from those of the United States and other Western countries (Walker 2010). With PCA, students learn basic scripts by a process of enactment and adaptation to real-life performance situations. Language students acquire their performance skills in ways similar to theatrical stage performers, which involve the study of scripts, rehearsal, and improvisation. The different types of roles Chinese learners are able to play demonstrate the degree of their knowledge of the Chinese culture and society. PCA provides opportunities for students to learn a target culture with the guidance and direction by the teacher through performing and drilling with a practical guidance and goal for teaching Chinese speaking to English speakers as a foreign language. It treats foreign language learning as a cultural behavior in the target culture, and considers learning a language is to experience and practice the language cultural behavior. The teacher plays a role as a film director who penetrates cultural factors in the whole process of teaching speaking Chinese and preparing students to interact appropriately and effectively while participating in intercultural relationships through PCA, so as to make students understand Chinese culture more smoothly on the basis of language communication. Students accumulate knowledge about the target culture through repeated PC practice and rehearsal until they are able to speak appropriate Chinese with proper behavior in the real-world language environment.

Allwright (1984) maintains that learners need to use the target language to engage with people in meaningful social contexts with preset communicative tasks, some can overlap with language skill tasks, and some are real-world tasks to some extent. These tasks consist of integrative activities focusing on a particular linguistic feature, as well as exchanging information that has some real-world meaning. The purpose of real-world tasks as class activities with PCA is to help students carry out a communicative act with real-world settings, in which they are preparing themselves through mock communicative activities so that someday they’ll be able to carry out the activities outside of the class.

Example: a mock business negotiation with a real world business negotiation setting:

For this activity, the teacher needs to prepare with a number of cards which tell students: (1) the name of their company; (2) the product they sell; (3) basic information about the company; (4) what they are looking for; (5) a list of business negotiation etiquettes that students will pay attention to and act accordingly during the mock negotiation if they do not want to set up for failure.

Before starting, the teacher should ensure that all students know what to speak and how to behave during the negotiation process. During the pre-negotiation activity, students will walk around the 'negotiation room' introducing themselves and engaging in some small talks, discussing what they do and what they are looking for in a business deal. They should move from person to person until they have found the perfect match—a seller/exporter or a buyer/importer. If they find their match before everyone else, they can continue to engage in small talk until everyone has found their match.

At the end of the pre-negotiation activity, students team up with their match, discuss in Chinese about their negotiation strategies, putting together a list of cultural etiquettes that they must follow during the ensuing PCA activities.

Example of a script using PCA to help students complete the task of a business negotiation with appropriate cultural behavior:

At the initial business negotiation meeting:

- The head of the visiting delegation first enters the negotiation room
- After a round of hand shaking, greetings, and business card exchange, the visitors are seated at the negotiation table.
- The guest delegation will be seated facing the door
- The heads of both delegations should sit eye to eye
- The meeting starts with small talks such as sightseeing, impression about the country/city/company, food, weather, trip, etc. in order to get the ball rolling
- The heads of the host team and guest team deliver short welcoming speeches respectively
- Each party introduces their team members, their roles and functions in the company
- As an importer, state why the seller should give you at least 5 percent discount on your imported goods
- As a seller, state why you cannot give the buyer or potential importer 5 percent discount over the price of the goods
- Perform a business negotiation on purchasing products, payment terms, date of delivery, etc.

All these Communicative Activities using PCA are designed to stimulate the students' strong desire and potential to learn the language, to speak the language with appropriate cultural behavior.

Conclusion

Speaking a foreign language, especially Chinese as a foreign language, is getting more and more common between learners and the oral practice is being increasingly valued in the CFL courses. Thus improving and helping the learners master speaking skills is a priority in CFL. In this study, it is concluded that the Communicative Approach plays an important role, contributing to the students' oral production. It is identified that the speaking skill is one area that matters most in a student's time while learning CFL; speaking models such as interaction, transaction, and performance with cultural appropriation is an Activate rather than a Study function. Each of these speaking activities is quite distinct in terms of form and function that require different teaching approaches and designs, different practices based on the Communicative Competence in order to improve students' speaking and motivation to talk about a specific context. The historical, theoretical, and practical contribution concerning the Communicative Approach and models with real-world communicative examples

helps teachers understand how the process of teaching and learning is done effectively. Furthermore, speaking activities provide opportunities for students to perform the culture of the target language, improve students' capacity of producing large conversational patterns, develop a variety of social contexts' arguments, and engage students in quality and effective real-world communication.

Notes

- 1 The Audio-Lingual Method (ALM) is a method of foreign-language teaching which emphasizes the teaching of listening and speaking before reading and writing. It uses dialogues as the main form of language presentation and drills as the main training techniques. Mother tongue is discouraged in the classroom.
- 2 Retrieved April 20, 2018: <https://wenku.baidu.com/view/e5da794ef7ec4afe04a1df24.html>
- 3 Tanzila Afrin. 'Communicative Language Teaching (CLT)-Lesson Plan'. Retrieved April 20, 2018: <http://tesol-lessonplan.blogspot.com/p/communicative-language-teaching-clt.html>
- 4 HSK: Hanyu Shuiping Kaoshi – Chinese Proficiency Test which is China's national standardized test designed and developed by the HSK Center of Beijing Language and Culture University to assess the Chinese language proficiency of non-native speakers (including foreigners, overseas Chinese, and students from Chinese national minorities).
- 5 Employees who are expected to follow the detailed policies and procedures of the organization, and in most cases, employees with this orientation prefer to work in that type of environment.

References

English References

- Alexander, L. G. and Tadman, J. (1973) *Target: An Audio-Visual English Course for Secondary Schools*, Vol. 1. London, England: Longman.
- Al-Issa, Ali Said and Al-Qubtan, Redha. (2010) 'Taking the floor: Oral presentations in EFL classrooms'. *TESOL Journal* 1(2): 227–246.
- Allen, John Patrick Brierley and Corder, S. P. (eds.) (1975) *The Edinburgh Course in Applied Linguistics: Papers in Applied Linguistics*. London: Oxford University Press.
- Allwright, R. L. (1984) 'The importance of interaction in classroom language learning'. *Applied Linguistics* 5 (2): 156–171. Oxford Academics. Retrieved from <https://doi.org/10.1093/applin/5.2.156>.
- Bailey, K. and Savage, L. (eds.) (1994) *New Ways In Teaching Speaking*. Alexandria, VA: TESOL Quarterly.
- Chomsky, Norm. (1965) *Aspects of the Theory of Syntax*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- Cora, Lindsay and Knight, Paul. (2006) *Learning and teaching English: A Course for Teachers*. London: Oxford University Press.
- Guan, Daoxiong. (2006) *2006 Business Chinese Workshop*. Ann Arbor, MI: University of Michigan. October 13–14.
- Halliday, Michael. (1973) *Explorations in the Functions of Language*. London: Edward Arnold Publishers.
- Hansen, J. G. (2004) 'Invisible minorities and the nonnative english-speaking professional'. In L. D. Kamhi-Stein (ed.), *Learning and Teaching from Experience. Perspectives on Nonnative English-Speaking Professionals*, 40–56. Ann Arbor, MI: University of Michigan Press.
- Harmer, J. (1984) *The Practice of English Language Teaching*. London: Longman.
- Hymes, Dell H. (1970) 'Linguistic method in ethnography: Its development in the United States'. In Paul L. Garvin (ed.), *Method and Theory in Linguistics*. The Hague: Mouton and Co.
- Jones, Pauline. (1996) 'Planning an oral language program' in Pauline Jones (ed.). *Talking to Learn*. Melbourne, Victoria, Australia: PETA.
- Kramsch, C. (1993) *Context and Culture in Language Teaching*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.
- Lado, Robert. (1964) *Language Teaching: A Scientific Approach*. London: MacGraw Hill.
- Lyman, Frank. (1981) 'The responsive classroom discussion'. In A. S. Anderson (ed.) *Mainstreaming Digest*. College Park, MD: University of Maryland College of Education.

- Richards, Jack C. (2008) 'Teaching listening and speaking: From theory to practice' in *Cambridge English Research & Methodology Booklets*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Richards, Jack C. and Rodgers, T. S. (1986) *Approaches and Methods in Language Teaching*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Rivers, Wilga M. (1981) *Teaching Foreign-Language Skills*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.
- Shaw, Angela. (2005) 'Why communication skills?' *Communication Skills*. Bristol, England: University of the West of England. Retrieved on February 21, 2018 from <http://learntech.uwe.ac.uk/Communication-Skills/Default.aspx?pageid=1376>.
- Shrum, J. I. and Glisan E. W. (1994) *Teacher's Handbook: Contextualized Language Instruction*. Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle.
- Taylor, B. P. (1983) 'Teaching ESL: Incorporating a communicative, student-centered component'. *TESOL Quarterly*. 17(1): 69–88 (Alexandria, VA).
- Walker, Galal (ed.) (2010) *The Pedagogy of Performing Culture*. Columbus, OH: Ohio State University.
- Widdowson, Henry G. (1978) *Teaching Language as Communication*. London: Oxford University Press.
- Wilkins, David Arthur. (1972) *Linguistics in Language Teaching*. Australia: Edward Arnold Press.

Chinese-English Bilingual Reference

- Liu, Meiru. (2006) *Basic Business Chinese* 《BBC初级实用商务汉语》. Beijing: Peking University Press.

Part IV

Teaching Chinese Words and Grammar



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

A Usage-Based Approach to L2 Grammar Instruction Delivered Through the PACE Model

Hong Li and Jing Paul

Introduction

The place of grammar instruction has been a very controversial topic among Second Language Acquisition (SLA) researchers and language teachers. This lack of consensus on grammar instruction has posed many challenges for teachers in the field of CSL—teaching Chinese as a second (or foreign) language—because the resources in this new field are scarcer.

This chapter presents a teaching method that adopts two concepts from usage-based approaches (frequency effects and cue salience) coupled with the presentation, attention, co-construction, and extension (PACE) Model (Adair-Hauck and Donato 2002). It begins with an overview of the form-focused and meaning-focused approaches in grammar instruction and also identifies the major difficulties found in these two approaches. Based on our recent survey of 178 CSL (Chinese as a second language) teachers worldwide, we then propose a method for teaching Chinese grammar that employs the concepts of frequency and cue salience in usage-based theory as general guidance for increasing input salience, coupled with the adoption of the PACE Model as a step-by-step procedure in conducting grammar lessons. For teaching materials, we created and employed 35 humorous dialogic stories to teach Chinese grammar at the college level, with each story highlighting a salient and frequently used grammatical pattern in Chinese (Li and Paul 2015). In this chapter, we will illustrate the procedure through our lesson on Chinese measure words and examine the characteristics of the four stages of the PACE model.

This chapter is especially helpful for CSL teachers who teach Chinese courses to high school or college students at the beginning and intermediate levels. It challenges teachers, particularly novice teachers, to examine their presuppositions about how to present grammar to L2 learners and to re-conceptualize their understanding of grammar teaching and learning. It also provides specific actionable steps for classroom use that integrates the following three important components of grammar instruction identified by the worldwide CSL teachers in a recent survey: the use of abundant comprehensible L2 input, the means for form-meaning mapping, and the opportunity to produce meaningful output.

Perspectives and Key Issues in Grammar Instruction

In the past few decades, research in SLA has provided important theoretical guidance for classroom practice, but it has also displayed a complex picture of the second language (L2) processes with many unresolved issues. The place of grammar instruction is one of them.

Traditionally, grammar teaching was form-focused and deductive, i.e. grammar lessons that begin with lengthy explicit explanations of rules and are often followed by uncontextualized examples and mechanical drills. This method, which may be somewhat suitable with lower proficiency level learners who prefer a clear grammatical foundation for language learning or with learners who are more accustomed to a teacher-centered learning environment, has long lost popularity among language teachers and learners. Compared to the rigid repetitive drills in this method, the Presentation-Practice-Production (PPP) teaching paradigm, also deductive in nature, became quite popular up until the 1990s. In PPP lessons, the teacher begins with an explicit introduction of the new grammar pattern (Presentation), then the learners practice the learned pattern (Practice), and finally the learners try to accurately produce their own sentences using the grammatical pattern through role-play, communicative tasks, etc. (Production). PPP offers a fixed instructional procedure, which is very easy for teachers to follow in the classroom.

However, since the 1990s, PPP has been criticized for neglecting communication as a primary objective and for being too linear and behaviorist in nature. As Skehan (1996) contends, PPP does not reflect principles of SLA—language learning does not occur in a linear fashion influenced directly by the instruction that takes place. Instead, SLA is a multifaceted complex process in which many factors, including learners' cognitive characteristics and motivation, also play a role.

As can be seen, a major issue in traditional deductive approaches is that the teacher-controlled way of teaching grammar leaves a huge gap between the instructional content and spontaneous real-life language use. In this case, what the teacher delivers in the classroom is disconnected from how the language is actually used in real life. To solve the problem, it is imperative to reflect actual language use in the teaching and learning of grammar, such as connecting to the 5Cs (Communication, Cultures, Connections, Comparisons, and Communities) as outlined in the world-readiness standards for learning language by ACTFL. To make teaching effective, a learner-centered classroom must be facilitated.

The discovery of certain similarities between L1 (first language) and L2 acquisition processes in the 1980s inspired meaning-focused approaches, which was a major shift from concentrating on grammatical form to exclusively focusing on meaning in real-life communication. The primary goal of the meaning-focused approaches is to increase the learners' communicative abilities in real-life contexts. In the classroom, teachers provide learners with abundant exposure to the target language and create opportunities for L2 production based on comprehensible input, with no formal grammar instruction. Many teachers quickly embraced the meaning-focused instruction and started to believe that the failure of the L2 learning was partially due to explicit grammar lessons (Nassaji and Fotos 2011). However, a major challenge in meaning-focused approaches is a lack of success in increasing learners' grammatical gains along with their increased exposure to the target language. Unlike L1 acquisition, more exposure to the target language does not necessarily increase the development of grammar competence (Mystkowska-Wiertelak and Pawlak 2012). Substantial exposure to the target language cannot guarantee the success of L2 learning. For instance, studies of French immersion programs in Canada have shown that, despite abundant exposure to the target language, the learners were unable to attain many aspects of the target language that were readily available in the comprehensible language input surrounding them.

In summary, both exclusively form-focused and meaning-focused approaches have their limitations in maximizing L2 learning. Using uncontextualized examples and mechanical drills, the form-focused approach lacks students' engagement and is not effective in cultivating students' ability to use grammatical patterns in communicative contexts. On the other hand, if the focus of instruction is exclusively on meaning, students may not necessarily develop an understanding of grammatical rules in the language. Naturally, there have been discussions about 'integrated form-focused instruction'—the integration of form and meaning in the language classroom. Here we define 'integrated form-focused instruction' by borrowing words from Paesani, Allen and Dupuy (2016: 80), as shown below:

The merging of form and meaning in classroom contexts is referred to as focus on form (FonF), form-focused instruction, or integrated form-focused instruction. . . . It entails a prerequisite engagement in meaning before attention is drawn precisely to a linguistic feature as necessitated by a communicative demand. Form-focused instruction can be either incidental . . . or planned by drawing learners' attention to preselected forms within a meaningful context.

Based on the principles of integrated form-focused approaches, several text-based models and templates were proposed to organize instructional activities, such as the three-phase (pre-reading, while-reading, and post-reading) model (Paesani 2005), the four-stage (presentation, attention, co-construction, and extension) model (Adair-Hauck and Donato 2002), and the five-stage (introducing ideas, understanding meaning, hypothesizing, establishing relations, and applying knowledge) template (Paesani, Allen and Dupuy 2016). These models have helped teachers integrate form and meaning into their classrooms and engage learners in communicative tasks, thus fundamentally transforming how grammar is taught. Meanwhile, they also have helped learners acquire language forms and use them in creative ways.

However, in spite of a shared common ground on the importance of form-focused instruction and the availability of instructional models, there is no consensus with regard to how grammar should be taught in the L2 classroom. In the field of CSL, we face even larger challenges because there are fewer resources available for teachers and little is known about how the text-based instructional models can be applied to teaching Chinese grammar. In the meantime, current research in CSL grammar instruction has been mainly focused on the learning process and subsequent pedagogical implications of individual grammatical patterns, which are difficult for CSL learners, such as the aspect marker *le* 了, the passive voice *bèi* 被, and the disposal construction *bǎ* 把. These studies are important because they share valuable information on learner difficulties and propose pedagogical suggestions regarding the teaching and learning of a specific grammatical pattern. However, studies that provide general theoretical and methodological guidance for teaching Chinese grammar are largely missing from current literature. More importantly, teachers' opinions and beliefs about grammar instruction are often neglected.

Between January and July of 2017, we collected survey results from 178 CSL teachers on their beliefs about grammar instruction. Most of the teachers who completed the survey were from the United States, and the others were from countries such as China, Australia, Germany, Spain, Singapore, and Canada. The majority of teachers were teaching both beginning and intermediate Chinese classes, and some were also teaching advanced Chinese, mainly at the high school or college levels. As the survey was designed for a larger project, we mainly focused on the availability of grammar teaching resources and the teachers' views of what is important

in teaching Chinese grammar. Below we report the teachers' responses to the following two questions:

1. Are there any books that you have found very useful in teaching Chinese grammar (or teaching Chinese in general)?
2. Please list three of the most important features of a Chinese language teacher's handbook for teaching grammar.

In response to the first question, 91 teachers (51%) selected 'no', 62 (35%) selected 'yes', and 25 (14%) did not provide an answer. Even though we are aware of a lack of teaching resources in CSL, it is still surprising to see that most CSL teachers were unable to find a useful handbook in teaching Chinese grammar or teaching Chinese in general. This shows there is an urgent need for resources in the field. As for the second question, three teachers (1.7%) indicated they oppose grammar instruction. One hundred and eleven teachers (63%) support grammar instruction. The rest of the participants (35.3%) did not provide an answer to this question. Those who support grammar instruction shared their beliefs on the most important features of a Chinese language teacher's handbook. Specifically, they collectively placed emphasis on the following three components: (1) giving concise explanations of the grammar pattern, (2) providing abundant examples in situational contexts, and (3) engaging learners in easy-to-use communicative activities. Based on comments in the survey and our email communications with some of the teacher participants, we interpret the teachers' responses as the three components in teaching grammar. Among these three components, giving concise explanation of the grammar pattern places the emphasis on language forms. Engaging learners in easy-to-use communicative activities places the focus on the meaning of the language. Of course, our goal is not to dissect these components into separate pieces, but to integrate them for effective classroom use. Even though the teachers may not be familiar with integrated form-focused approaches, their responses reflect the key instructional activities in the integrated form-focused approaches. As will be detailed later, these three components can be seamlessly integrated using the PACE model. Namely, providing abundant examples in situational contexts, if employed at the initial stages of grammar teaching, echoes the approach suggested by PACE, i.e. learners focus on comprehension of meaning before focusing on form. The employment of abundant examples with the same structure could also help learners extrapolate the form-meaning connection from target language materials. Easy-to-use communicative activities could be employed at a later stage to apply the newly acquired knowledge creatively in their L2 production and also addresses other aspects of the ACTFL World-Readiness Standards for Learning Languages' 5Cs, such as culture, comparison, community, and connection.

Under this context, we introduce two concepts and a model to CSL teachers who teach beginning and intermediate level Chinese to high school or college students. The two concepts—frequency effects and cue salience in usage-based approaches—provide general guidance on increasing the effectiveness of L2 exposure. The PACE model, which bridges form-focused and meaning-focused approaches, establishes an easy-to-follow procedure that adequately addresses the three instructional components indicated by CSL teachers.

Input Frequency and Salience in Grammar Instruction

To increase the effectiveness of L2 exposure, we would like to introduce frequency effects and cue salience in usage-based approaches. In recent decades, many researchers and practitioners in SLA have been emphasizing the communicative function of language in teaching. Various

ways of teaching L2 in communicative contexts are often referred to as usage-based because they emphasize the notion that actual language use, i.e. meaning-making, is a primary shaper of linguistic form (Tyler 2010). While various approaches can be considered usage-based, they all share the following beliefs: L2 learning is primarily based on the linguistic input learners receive, from which the learners employ general cognitive mechanisms to figure out the rules of the L2 (Ellis and Wulff 2015). The two concepts—frequency effects and cue salience—must be introduced simultaneously.

Frequency refers to frequency of exposure through the means of input, i.e. ‘the relative frequency of formal features in the language that people hear or read’ (Vanpatten and Benati 2010: 88). Researchers have argued that there is a close relationship between language acquisition and input frequency because second language learning is input driven. Language processing, as Ellis (2002) pointed out, is sensitive to usage frequency at all levels of language representation, from phonology, through lexis and syntax, to sentence processing.

A study by Larsen-Freeman (1975) found evidence that input frequency plays a crucial role in second language learners’ morpheme acquisition order. In an annotated survey of numerous studies on the effects of input frequency on L2 learning, Kartal and Sarigul (2017) concluded that both corpus and experimental data suggest that frequency has significant effects on second language acquisition. Meanwhile, they also acknowledged an important limitation of frequency related studies—the difficulty of excluding other factors in order to detect the unique contribution of frequency. Additionally, frequent input is not necessarily salient input; a large amount of input may be left unnoticed by L2 learners (Ellis and Wulff 2015). Below we share the concept of cue salience in SLA.

Salience in SLA is defined by Loewen and Reinder (2011: 152) as ‘how noticeable or explicit a linguistic structure is in the *input*’. As a layperson would agree, anything salient makes it easier for people to notice. According to the Noticing Hypothesis (Schmidt 1990), input in L2 has to be noticed in order to become intake for language learning. Salience could come from different domains. First, it could be purely physical. For example, louder noises, brighter colors, or stimulus with unique features are more salient (Ellis 2017). In L2, the manipulations of cue salience or input salience could enhance L2 grammar instruction. Specifically, typographical manipulations, such as using boldface text, underlined words, larger font size, italicized, and highlighted texts, could increase the salience of the input (Gascoigne 2006). Doughty (1991) conducted a study on the acquisition of relative clauses of both instructed and non-instructed learners. She discovered that creating visual salience, such as highlighting and capitalization, drew learners’ attention to the target form and improved student learning.

Salience could also be closely related to what we have learned or how we are taught. For example, form-focused instruction could increase the salience of grammatical patterns through explicit discussions of the target form, meta-linguistic descriptions, and negative evidence through explicit error correction. The instruction turns the attention of L2 learners to grammatical cues and hence enhances the learning of grammar. Also, depending on how instructional materials are organized and presented to learners, some associations may be more salient than others (Ellis 2017). For example, learning large units, such as sentences, before small units, such as words, could affect learning outcomes. In a recent study (Paul and Grüter 2016), adult English-speaking participants who had no prior knowledge of Chinese were exposed to a block of sentences (an invariant carrier phrase + a classifier + noun, 这是一根羽毛, this is a feather) *and* a block of nouns (羽毛, feather). Both groups learned exactly the same materials, just in a different order. Those who were exposed to sentences *before* nouns performed significantly better than those who were exposed to sentences *after* nouns in learning the ‘classifier+noun’

association. In this case, the learners' first experience with sentence or noun determined subsequent learning outcomes.

These findings are encouraging, as they show us that teachers could employ different pedagogical strategies to enhance the salience of grammatical cues to optimize acquisition. A useful tactic is to create lessons that not only incorporate frequent exposure to the target form in meaningful contexts, but also employ pedagogical strategies to enhance the salience of the form, such as manipulating typographical features of written text, using visual aids that are interesting to learners, employing form-focused instruction when appropriate, and taking into consideration of the sequence of materials and learners' prior experience. For example, when explicitly introducing Chinese classifiers (also known as measure words in some textbooks) to English-speaking learners who have no prior knowledge of Chinese, the grammatical association of 'classifier+noun' becomes more salient when we introduce sentences (that include classifier and noun pairing) before nouns (Paul and Grüter 2016).

Introduction to the PACE Model

As demonstrated earlier, when it comes to teaching grammar in second language classrooms, especially to high school and college students, the question is not whether to teach it, but rather how, when, and where to focus on form in a lesson. Even though traditional approaches in the teaching of Chinese grammar seem to be form-focused, i.e. the teaching begins with an explanation or presentation of grammatical rules by the teacher, followed by pattern drills, our survey of 178 CSL teachers indicates that the majority prefers teaching approaches that combine form-focused and meaning-focused instruction by integrating rich input in meaningful contexts, concise explanation of grammatical rules, and easy-to-use communicative activities. According to Ellis and Wulff (2015), one of the principles of usage-based approaches to SLA is that 'language learning is primarily based on learners' exposure to their second language (L2) in use, that is, the linguistic input they receive' (p. 75). This idea implies that language learning begins with learners' exposure to meaningful language input, i.e. utterances in a communicative context, not ready-made grammatical rules.

While the usage-based approaches provide a theoretical foundation for conceptualizing grammar instruction and its place in the overall curriculum, the specific steps of teaching grammar, from creating teaching materials to selecting procedures for delivering grammar lessons, remain a relatively scarce area of study, particularly in the teaching of Chinese grammar. In the following sections, we will introduce the elements of the PACE model for grammar instruction and its adaptation for the teaching of Chinese grammar at high school or university settings. Specifically, we use dialogic stories, each featuring frequent uses of a specific grammatical pattern, as meaningful input to teach Chinese grammar to learners at the college level. In addition to presenting each pattern *frequently*, we also use humorous and meaningful texts (i.e. the dialogic stories) and methods of textual enhancement to make the grammatical cues more *salient* in their communicative contexts. We will examine how the PACE Model pushes learners to make form-meaning connections and how it can be used to teach grammatical patterns in Chinese.

The PACE Model is a four-phased circular process for grammar instruction. The teaching process commences with a presentation of interesting and compelling texts, such as stories, folktales, songs, or cartoons, in which the learners' attention is intentionally directed toward a well-chosen grammatical pattern. The construction of grammatical rules takes place after the meaning of this pattern has been established and basic comprehension has been achieved. The four phases of the PACE Model are as follows:

1. Presentation of Meaningful Language

This is the storytelling phase in which the teacher presents a story or other text (e.g. poems, taped selections, and songs) orally, using a variety of instructional activities to prepare learners linguistically and cognitively for their comprehension of the text. In the selected text, the target grammatical pattern is highlighted and should appear frequently. This is an interactive process in which learners participate in the storytelling event by sharing their relevant knowledge or experience, asking and answering questions, and predicting what happens in the story. The emphasis of this phase is on providing comprehensible and contextualized input around a whole text and aiding learners' literal comprehension of the text. Additionally, foreshadowing of the target grammatical pattern is done through repeated uses of it in the text.

2. Attention Phase to Focus on Form

After the learners have demonstrated their comprehension of the text and their readiness to focus on the chosen grammatical pattern, the teacher explicitly directs their attention to the target form used in the text. This is accomplished by extracting sample sentences (or words) from the text and highlighting them with technical tools or textual enhancement techniques such as bold facing, underlining, and color coding. The goal is to get learners to pay attention to the particular linguistic form.

This phase is brief, usually completed in a few minutes; yet, its importance cannot be underestimated. Since learners may not discover the grammatical patterns embedded in the input without guidance and instruction, the role of the teacher is to guide learners to pay attention to the linguistic form in question and to think about the common characteristics in form and function.

3. Co-Construction Phase to Focus on Form

After the teacher has focused learners' attention on the target language pattern, the teacher and the learners work collaboratively to co-construct its rule and function. The teacher asks questions or provides hints to help students discover grammatical rules. Learners are also encouraged to ask questions, to hypothesize, and to make generalizations about the target pattern. This process involves collaborative work between the teacher and learners as well as among learners themselves through pair or group work. Since learners' abilities vary from class to class, person to person, the teacher needs to be responsive to learners' performance by continuously assessing their contributions in this phase and providing appropriate amounts of assistance. A learner's first language is often used during the co-construction stage.

Co-construction of grammar rules is only possible when learners have been frequently exposed to the targeted grammar pattern in the text and when the pattern is made salient to them in the instructional process. In other words, the Co-construction phase is dependent on the work done in the Presentation and Attention phases.

4. Extension Activities

Once grammatical rules and functions are co-constructed, learners move on to creatively use their newly acquired knowledge in their L2 production, therefore transferring comprehensible input into output. In this phase, learners focus on both meaning and form by making connections between the two when completing Extension activities. Extension activities are communicative, contextualized, and meaningful. They can be information-gap activities, role-plays,

games, collaborative writing projects, etc. When engaging in the activities, learners try to use the grammatical pattern to express themselves in contexts related to the theme of the lesson.

There are other models for form-focused instruction. Paesani (2005) suggested a three-phase (pre-reading, while-reading, and post-reading) model that uses literary texts (poems, short stories, excerpts from novel) to present grammatical patterns. While the pre-reading phase prepares learners for comprehension, it is in the while-reading phase that learners' attention is turned to the grammatical pattern and they are encouraged to focus on form and test hypotheses regarding the form. Post-reading is similar to the Extension phase in the PACE Model, in which learners engage in communicative tasks using the grammatical forms. Recently, Paesani, Allen and Dupuy (2016) put forth a template of instructional sequence in their multiliteracies framework for collegiate foreign-language teaching: 1) introducing ideas to access background knowledge and prepare learners, 2) understanding meaning to gain global and detailed understanding of the text, 3) hypothesizing to notice patterns and rules and see connections, 4) establishing relationships to explore choices of language forms and their effects, and 5) applying knowledge of language forms in creative production. These two models and the PACE Model share several similarities. They all place comprehensible and interesting input at the forefront of grammar instruction, and the chosen grammatical pattern is presented in a meaningful context. They all reflect SLA findings that learning grammar in context is necessary for learners to establish form-meaning connection and develop the ability to use it in the real world. Additionally, they put learners at the center of grammar teaching and learning as active participants. All three models are also similar in terms of instructional sequence. They all include an initial stage to prepare learners, a progression of activities to move learners from focusing on meaning to focusing on form, and a final stage for language production.

We chose the PACE Model because it is compatible with a broader range of texts. Any cultural stories, including songs, real-life activities, cartoons, etc., are all potential texts for highlighting grammatical patterns. We also find the dialogic approach compelling because it enables the negotiation of meaning and form between teacher and learners and among learners themselves. Using this model, grammar learning occurs in communicative contexts through social interactions; subsequently, learners would be more motivated to learn and are more prepared for real tasks beyond the classroom. Finally, the four-phases of the PACE Model are actionable, clearly scaffolded, and quite easy to follow when designing grammar lessons.

Although the PACE Model might be a new idea to some CSL teachers, L2 teachers in other languages who believe in the benefits of teaching grammar in meaningful contexts have already incorporated comprehensible input in grammar instruction and have guided learners to discover grammatical rules in various ways. For example, when teaching English past tense, ESL teachers often tell stories in the past tense and then ask questions to direct learners' attention to the verb form used in the story and to discover the commonalities as well as exceptions in form. A common story-based activity for learning future tense is that the teacher tells an incomplete story and invites suggestions from learners as to how it will continue or end. When telling stories, teachers often do so in their own words rather than read aloud from a written text. They maintain eye contact with the class, pausing to explain or paraphrase when needed to make the storytelling an interactive process. All of the above are key elements of the PACE Model, which conceptualizes various practices into a step-by-step, easy-to-follow teaching model.

Teaching Chinese Measure Words

In the following sections, we will introduce the grammar teaching materials we created and our method of using dialogic stories as meaningful input in the teaching of Chinese grammar to learners at the high school and college level.

1. The Materials

The 35 humorous dialogic stories are specifically designed for usage-based grammar instruction at the beginning and intermediate levels. The stories feature daily events in the lives of Chinese and American college students. In each of the dialogic stories, a grammatical pattern is used multiple times, thus making it salient to learners. Grammatical patterns featured in the stories include measure words (or classifiers), modal auxiliary verbs *huì* 会 and *néng* 能, prepositions *zài* 在 and *gēn* 跟, verbal aspect *le* 了, sentence-final *le* 了, *bǎ* 把 construction, comparative sentences, verbal complements, and complex sentences, etc. Full transcripts, vocabulary lists, and lists of sample sentences of the grammatical patterns are provided to aid learners' comprehension and draw their attention to form. We also include cartoon illustrations for each of the stories to help learners visualize the scenes and engage them in storytelling using the targeted grammatical patterns. Finally, a series of communicative activities using the grammatical patterns provide learners opportunities to use their new skills creatively and interpersonally. Whether constructing their own stories or completing communicative tasks, learners engage in the process of negotiating both meaning and form and use the grammatical patterns in meaningful contexts.

The grammatical patterns listed above are commonly introduced in Chinese language textbooks for learners at the beginning or intermediate levels. Since these are the targeted groups of learners, the stories use simple language to make the input comprehensible. Additionally, the stories are short in length, two to five minutes each in the accompanying videos. We have used the materials to teach grammar in our classes of elementary and intermediate Chinese. In practice, we follow the four stages of the PACE model to induce learners to discover the form, meaning and use of each grammatical pattern that has been established in a story.

2. A PACE Lesson on Measure Words

Below describes the teaching of measure words through the four phases of the PACE Model. Some Chinese linguists differentiate classifiers and measures in theory, but in CSL textbooks they are both referred to as measure words. The story that highlights the use of measure words can be used as a supplementary lesson when the teacher considers it necessary to call learners' attention to this grammatical pattern. It can also be used in conjunction with the main text in which measure words are introduced. We conducted the following PACE lesson on measure words prior to studying the main lesson that introduces this concept for several reasons. First, even though 'measure words' do exist in English, such as 'cup' in 'a cup of tea', the obligatory use of a measure word when counting objects is new to speakers of English. Calling their attention to the use of measure words through storytelling is a dynamic and meaningful way to instill a sense of awareness about this form early on in their journey of learning Chinese. Second, the story gives us an opportunity to focus on this specific form after the meaning of this form has been established in interesting and compelling contexts, rather than the other way around. Learners' active participation in the PACE process also helps them internalize the form in a meaningful manner. Finally, in comparison to lessons in a textbook, where multiple grammatical patterns are introduced in one text, the mini PACE lesson singles out one specific pattern in language use, thus making it more salient. Depending on the instructional needs identified by the teacher, the PACE lesson can also be used as a mini review lesson on measure words.

2.1 Presentation of the Dialogic Story Highlighting Measure Words 个, zhāng 张, jiàn 件, tiáo 条, and kuài 块

Time: Noon

Location: Tang Wei and Kevin's apartment

Situation: Tang Wei, Kevin, Xiao Lan and Heidi are watching news about a recent earthquake. They plan to make donations to the disaster victims.

(Tang Wei is putting different items on the table.)

唐伟: 来! 来! 来! 我捐两件衬衫, 三条裤子, 还有一百块钱。

海蒂: 我捐一件夹克, 三条裙子和八十块钱。 *(Putting items one by one on the table)*

小兰: 看我的! 一张飞机票和一个人! *(Holding a plane ticket and pointing at herself)*

(Tang Wei and Kevin appear puzzled.)

唐伟: 小兰, 你捐不捐啊?

小兰: 捐啊! 捐一张飞机票 *(Waving her plane ticket)*, 还捐一个人! *(Pointing at herself and blinking)*

海蒂: 小兰买了飞机票, 要去灾区!

唐伟、凯文: *(Surprised)* 真的?

小兰: *(Nodding and handing over her plane ticket)* 真的!

唐伟: *(Quickly browsing the plane ticket)* 去一个月啊?

小兰: *(Grabbing her plane ticket)* 对! 一个月!

(Everybody looks at Kevin.)

凯文: *(Pointing at a table)* 我捐这张桌子。

唐伟、海蒂和小兰: *(Puzzled)* 一张桌子?

凯文: *(Quickly folding the table)* 我和几个朋友捐八张桌子!

唐伟、海蒂、小兰: 哇!!

(Li and Paul 2015: 30–31)

The characters in the story are college students and friends. Tang Wei and Xiaolan are heritage speakers of Chinese, while Kevin and Heidi are foreign-language learners of Chinese. All our stories feature the daily happenings in their lives, including academics, social events, relationships, their successes, disappointments, etc. Since we use the stories over the course of one or two semesters, our students become quite familiar with the characters and their personalities.

Before presenting stories, it is important to activate learners' background or experience, set the stage for the story, and prepare learners for comprehension. For the above story, we asked students if they knew about the 2008 earthquake in Sichuan and we showed them short video clips of the earthquake. We also asked students about their volunteer activities and in what ways they had supported people in need. We introduced a few keywords, using Chinese as much as possible. These activities did not take up much time, usually approximately two to five minutes. Students were engaged throughout the activities.

There are multiple ways to tell stories. The teacher can pre-record the dialogue and play it in class, usually more than once, and let students comment or ask questions about the storyline in between each playing of the audio. However, we prefer telling stories in class in person, so we can maintain eye contact with our students, use gestures to facilitate the delivery of content, and interject necessary explanations or questions. To make it an interactive and interpersonal process, we also brought the items mentioned in the dialogue, such as pants, shirts, jackets, foldable tables, etc., to the classroom and asked students to act out the story in groups. The props not only aid learners' comprehension of the story, but also direct their attention to the form,

i.e. the measure words used for the items, thus preparing them for the next phase—attention on form.

2.2 Attention on Measure Words *ge* 个, *zhāng* 张, *jiàn* 件, *tiáo* 条, and *kuài* 块

After learners achieve basic comprehension of the story in the Presentation phase, the teacher begins the Attention phase, directing learners' attention to the grammatical pattern. In this story, measure words were used 14 times in a total of 14 conversational turns. A variety of teaching strategies were employed to enhance their salience. The items brought to class served as visual cues when we asked the students to say the number of the items on display. We projected photos and phrases using the measure words on PowerPoint presentations. Additionally, sentences with measure words were bolded in the transcript of the story. A separate list of sentences using measure words were provided to students as well. These attention-getting strategies are directly linked to student learning, because 'the amount of learning induced from an experience of a construction depends upon the saliency of the form (i.e. how much it stands out relative to its context) and the importance of understanding it correctly' (Ellis and Wulff 2015: 78).

2.3 Co-construction of Grammatical Rules for Measure Words

Once the teacher has directed the learners' attention to the grammatical pattern in the previous phase, the teacher will engage in conversations with students for the purpose of co-constructing grammatical rules. It is important to keep in mind that the teacher does not provide ready-made rules to learners and that learners are not passive recipients of the rules. Rather, this is a collaborative and interactive process in which the teacher and students work together to discuss similarities and discover the characteristics of the underlying pattern. To co-construct the rule for the use of measure words, we asked students to form small groups, read the sentences using the measure words (some are in Chinese), conduct the following activities and answer questions regarding the syntactic contexts of the measure words:

- Underline (or color-code) the words used before *ge* 个, *zhāng* 张, *jiàn* 件, *tiáo* 条, and *kuài* 块 and the words used after *ge* 个, *zhāng* 张, *jiàn* 件, *tiáo* 条, and *kuài* 块
- Do the words used before *ge* 个, *zhāng* 张, *jiàn* 件, *tiáo* 条, and *kuài* 块 share any common features? If so, what are they?
- Do the words used after *ge* 个, *zhāng* 张, *jiàn* 件, *tiáo* 条, and *kuài* 块 share any common features? If so, what are they?
- Based on your observations above, can you make a hypothesis or generalization about the grammatical context for *ge* 个, *zhāng* 张, *jiàn* 件, *tiáo* 条, and *kuài* 块

Next, we asked students to share their observations in class and together we co-constructed the rule regarding the use of *ge* 个, *zhāng* 张, *jiàn* 件, *tiáo* 条, *kuài* 块. Once a generalization was formed, we asked students if they noticed any connections between the properties of the objects and the associated measure words. This conversation led to the discovery that *zhāng* 张 is normally associated with flat, thin objects, *jiàn* 件 with upper body clothing such as shirts and jackets, while *tiáo* 条 with lower body clothing, etc. Some parts of the conversations were conducted in Chinese, depending on the students' proficiency level.

It is important to note that at this stage, learners are not expected to master all aspects of a grammatical pattern. Instead, the co-construction process focuses on the aspects of the form

relevant to the context of the story. Students are more likely to understand and remember the usage of the grammatical pattern through their own guided exploration as opposed to being lectured to.

2.4 Extension Activities to Practice Using *ge* 个, *zhāng* 张, *jiàn* 件, *tiáo* 条, and *kuài* 块 in Context

In this last phase of the PACE lesson, learners are engaged in tasks designed to make transparent the links between form, meaning, and use. Depending on the instructional time available, one or more activities can be assigned. We began this phase with the following activity based on the story.

ACTIVITY 1

Fill in the measure words for the items on the left column, and then match them to the people in the story who donate them to the 2008 earthquake victims.

Donated Items	People who donate them
liǎng ____ chènshān	Heidi
sān ____ qúnzi	Tang Wei
yì ____ fāijǐpiào	Xiaolan
bā ____ zhuōzi	Kevin

Another similar activity involves the use of storyboarding drawings below.

ACTIVITY 2

Students form groups of three. Based on the drawings, each student completes a sentence that includes ‘person + *juān* 捐 (to donate) + number and measure + item’. The drawings help students visualize the events in the story and prompt them to use the target grammatical pattern in their language production. Negotiations of meaning and form take place during this activity.

Extension activities often go beyond the story itself. To underscore the association between the choice of measure words and the properties of the nouns, we projected photos of a few other items, such as T-shirts, greeting cards, beds, teachers, and students on PowerPoint slides and asked students to guess the measure words for them. Another version of this activity is to have students work in groups to brainstorm a list of items that potentially use *ge* 个, *zhāng* 张, *jiàn* 件, *tiáo* 条, or *kuài* 块 as measure words. If this PACE lesson takes place before the main text in which measure words are taught, the teacher could jump start the new lesson by using vocabulary from the new lesson in Extension activities. For example, we asked students to reference the vocabulary lists of the new lesson in their textbook and answer the following questions presented in Chinese.

- How many brothers and sisters do you have?
- How many teachers/doctors/lawyers do you know?

Students answered the questions in Chinese and they had to decide which measure word (*ge* 个) to use in answering the questions.

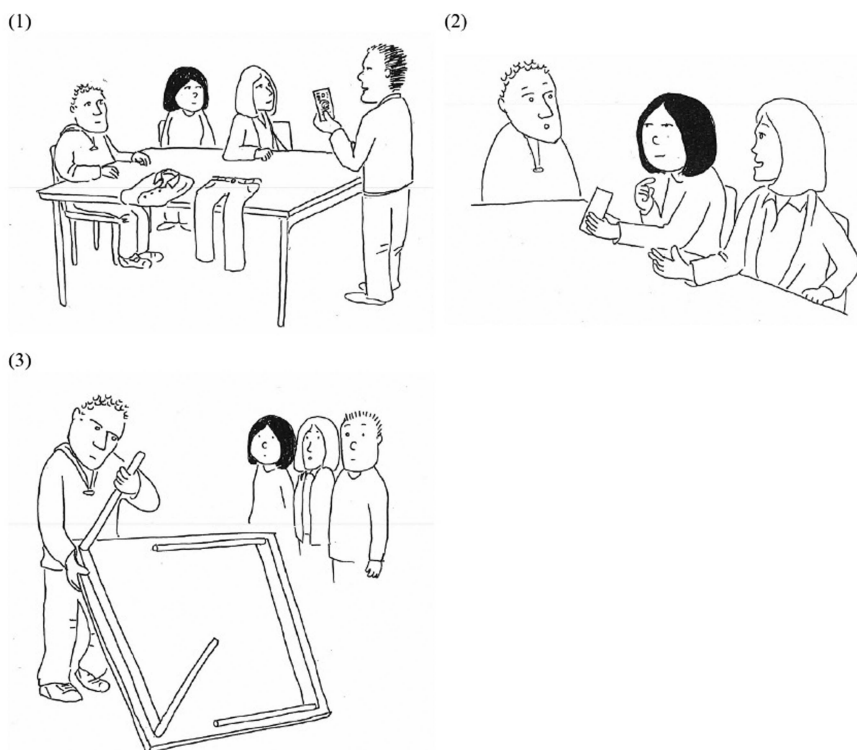


Figure 16.1 Comics in Activity 2

Source: Li and Paul 2015: 33–34

This final stage completes the circle of a PACE lesson. It provides opportunities for learners to use their newly acquired grammatical knowledge in meaningful contexts and in creative ways. Through the four stages of the PACE model, students remain active participants in the process. They are guided and assisted by the teacher in their comprehension of the story, construction of the form, and language production using their newly acquired skills.

In summary, the PACE model aims at the acquisition of a grammar pattern through comprehension of its meaning in context and collaborative construction of its rules. A PACE lesson begins with a whole contextualized text that highlights the grammar pattern to be taught. In this way learners experience a meaningful and longer discourse before focusing on form and parts. As Adair-Hauck and Donato (2002) point out, once learners comprehend the whole, they are better able to deal with the parts. This process is in keeping with one of the cognitive mechanisms for language processing, i.e. the top-down processing, where we use background information and context to aid our comprehension of words and sentences, etc. During the stages that focus on form, the PACE Model uses the guided inductive approach, emphasizing collaboration between teachers and learners and the co-construction of grammar rules. To a certain extent, the PACE Model reconciles the deductive and inductive views of grammar teaching, where learners are neither left alone to figure out grammatical rules on their own nor are they the passive recipients of grammatical explanations.

Finally, we want to point out that a PACE lesson provides many opportunities for addressing other aspects of the ACTFL World-Readiness Standards for Learning Languages 5Cs, such as

culture, comparison, community, and connection. Many of our dialogic stories integrate cultural products, practices, and perspectives in the storylines. In the PACE lesson on measure words, the videos and photos from the earthquake are culturally rich. Using the story of making donations to earthquake victims, we drew learners' attention to the value of helping people in need in Chinese culture. In the Extension phase, learners can engage in simple speaking or writing activities in which they name the objects they want to donate to people in need, which is a practice highly valued in many cultures. Students could also be guided to compare community support between China and their own counties in situations like this.

Concluding Thoughts

In this chapter, we offered a brief summary of various approaches to grammar teaching. The essential idea we intended to establish is that grammar teaching should connect form and meaning in contextualized contexts and offer opportunities for learners to use language forms creatively and meaningfully. We then introduced our scaffolded, integrated form-focused grammar teaching method that was informed by usage-based approaches and the PACE Model. Specifically, our grammar lessons begin with interactive presentations of a target grammatical pattern in a whole text, and then we focus on form by directing learners' attention to it and engage them in the process of co-constructing grammatical rules. Throughout the process, the contextualized materials are presented frequently; various pedagogical strategies are employed to increase the salience of grammatical cues. Finally, learners use their newly gained knowledge in communicative tasks. The process moves from focusing on meaning to focusing on form, and finally to language output. The primary goal is to help learners not only acquire grammatical form but also make form-meaning connections and use language for communicative purposes. In recent years, we have taught grammar using this method at different universities in the US, and found it to be easy-to-use, engaging, and effective. The humorous dialogic stories and the accompanying cartoons were well received by our students and seemed to boost enthusiasm in their learning of Chinese. Students also remember the grammatical patterns well because the patterns are associated with interesting stories in their memory. Considering the scarcity of general methodological guidance on teaching Chinese grammar, we hope this chapter offers a general teaching method that inspires teachers to re-conceptualize grammar instruction and guide them in integrated form-focused instruction.

References

- Adair-Hauck, B. and Donato, R. (2002) 'The pace model: A story-based approach to meaning and form for standards-based language learning'. *The French Review* 76(2): 265–276.
- Doughty, C. (1991) 'Second language instruction does make a difference'. *Studies in Second Language Acquisition* 13: 431–469.
- Ellis, N. C. (2002) 'Frequency effects in language acquisition: A review with implications for theories of implicit and explicit language acquisition'. *Studies in Second Language Acquisition* 24: 143–188.
- Ellis, N. C. (2017) 'Salience in usage-based SLA'. In S. Gass, P. Spinner and J. Behney (eds.), *Salience in Second Language Acquisition*. New York: Routledge.
- Ellis, N. C. and Wulff, S. (2015) 'Usage-based approaches to SLA'. In B. VanPatten and J. Williams (eds.), *Theories in Second Language Acquisition: An Introduction*, 2nd edn. New York: Routledge.
- Gascoigne, C. (2006) 'Explicit input enhancement: Effects on target and non-target aspects of second language acquisition'. *Foreign Language Annals* 39: 551–564.
- Kartal, G. and Sarigul, E. (2017) 'Frequency effects in second language acquisition: An annotated survey'. *Journal of Education and Training Studies* 5(6): 1–8.

- Larsen-Freeman, D. (1975) 'The acquisition of grammatical morphemes by adult ESL students'. *TESOL Quarterly* 9: 409–430.
- Li, H. and Paul, J. Z. (2015) *Fun with Chinese Grammar: 35 Humorous Dialogues and Comics*. Nanjing: Nanjing University Press.
- Loewen, S. and Reinder, H. (2011) *Key Concepts in Second Language Acquisition*. Hampshire, UK: Palgrave MacMillian.
- Mystkowska-Wiertelak, A. and Pawlak, M. (2012) *Production-Oriented and Comprehension-Based Grammar Teaching in the Foreign Language Classroom*. New York: Springer.
- Nassaji, H. and Fotos, S. (2011) *Teaching Grammar in Second Language Classrooms: Integrating Form-Focused Instruction in Communicative Context*. London: Routledge.
- Paesani, K. (2005) 'Literary texts and grammar instruction: Revisiting the inductive presentation'. *Foreign Language Annals* 38: 15–23.
- Paesani, K., Allen, H. and Dupuy, B. (2016) *A Multiliteracies Framework for Collegiate Foreign Language Teaching*. Upper Saddle River, NJ: Pearson.
- Paul, J. Z. and Grüter, T. (2016), 'Blocking effects in the learning of Chinese classifiers'. *Language Learning* 66(4): 972–999.
- Schmidt, R. (1990) 'The role of consciousness in second language learning'. *Applied Linguistics* 11: 129–158.
- Skehan, P. (1996) 'Second language acquisition research and task-based instruction'. In J. Willis and D. Willis (eds.), *Challenge and Change in Language Teaching*. Oxford: Heinemann.
- Tyler, A. (2010) 'Usage-based approaches to language and their applications to second language learning'. *Annual Review of Applied Linguistics* 30: 270–291.
- Vanpatten, B. and Benati, A. (2010) *Key Terms in Second Language Acquisition*. New York: Continuum International Publishing Group.

Methods of Lexical Semantic Inquiry in Teaching Advanced-Level Vocabulary

Shiao Wei Tham

Introduction

Knowing the vocabulary of a language is a major component of knowing that language. The importance of vocabulary in foreign language learning is reflected, for instance, in the proficiency guidelines of institutions such as the ILR¹ and the ACTFL² that seek to identify proficiency standards for foreign-language learners. In these guidelines, the range and level of difficulty of vocabulary acquired consistently fall among the criteria for judging proficiency in all four skills. The effective teaching of vocabulary is thus clearly a crucial part of successful foreign-language teaching. Every language shows unique characteristics, however, and vocabulary teaching in any language is a challenging task. This chapter addresses vocabulary instruction in the teaching of Chinese as a foreign language (TCFL) with a focus on how to distinguish near-synonyms, an issue that becomes increasingly important at the advanced level (Luo 1997). In particular, emphasis is placed on the integration of methods of linguistic inquiry into distinguishing near-synonyms for students. In this introduction, I first discuss some challenges to vocabulary teaching presented by the morphosyntactic properties of Mandarin Chinese.³

Teaching vocabulary in any foreign-language classroom is not an easy undertaking. In the teaching of Chinese as a foreign language (TCFL), two properties in particular of the target language present challenges. These are: first, a character-based morphemic script where each orthographical unit corresponds in most cases to a meaningful unit (although bearing no direct relationship to how it is pronounced); and second, a productive process of compounding that both feeds and is fed by the prevalence of disyllabic and multi-syllabic words in Modern Chinese, as opposed to Old Chinese, where, as Chen (1999: 68, 85) notes, characters reflected much more closely the monosyllabic nature of the basic units of the language at the time.

Within this context, one of the first issues to determine in vocabulary instruction, especially in the TCFL classroom, is thus the kind of lexical unit most suited for introducing to the student. This question is often cast in terms of how to identify word status in Mandarin, as discussed in Packard (2000) and Shei (2014: ch.2). One important consequence of the factors noted above is the lack of a one-to-one correspondence between units such as character (字 *zì*), morpheme (语素 *yǔsù*), and word (词 *cí*) in Modern Mandarin. In the simplest case, a word corresponds to one syllable and one morpheme (e.g. the first person pronoun 我 *wǒ* 'I'). Some

characters may correspond to monosyllabic bound morphemes, however, such as 们 *-men*, the plural marker for human-denoting nouns, including pronouns and proper names.

With disyllabic words, the situation is far more complex. A disyllabic word could be monomorphemic (e.g. 玻璃 *bo1li* ‘glass’), where the meaning of ‘glass’ is expressed by the presence of both characters, but neither character is meaningful in itself. It could be bimorphemic, where each character contributes meaning, but potentially to different degrees and with differing degrees of transparency. Possibilities may range from the relatively compositional 书包 *shu1bao1* ‘book-bag’ which contains two free morphemes, to examples such as 高兴 *gao1xing4* ‘happy, lit. high spirit’, where the free morpheme 高 *gao1* ‘high’ is used metaphorically, and 兴 *xing4* ‘interest, enthusiasm’ may be regarded a bound morpheme, to cases such as 孤独 *gu1du2* ‘to be alone, lonesome, lit. to have lost one’s father-alone’, where both morphemes contribute some meaning component of forlornness and loneliness, and both are bound morphemes in the modern language. Given the long history of the language and the meaning changes that have taken place, some compounds could appear semantically opaque even if their meanings were once transparent. For instance, the word 干戈 *gan1ge1* in the modern language means ‘military conflict’, but historically, each character used to name a different kind of weapon.

The situation is further exacerbated by a lack of orthographical conventions such as white space between words. Rather, each character provides a natural orthographical unit whose boundaries do not necessarily correspond to word boundaries. A string of characters such as 中华人民共和国 *Zhong1hua2ren2min2gong4he2guo* ‘People’s Republic of China’ is probably best understood as consisting of three words 中华 *Zhong1hua2* ‘Chinese’, 人民 *ren2min2* ‘people, citizenry’, and 共和国 *gong4he2guo2* ‘republic’, but there is nothing in the textual representation to indicate this. Overt morphophonological processes, such as tonal changes, that might hint at where word boundaries fall, are also relatively lacking.

In teaching vocabulary, then, the Chinese language instructor (and textbook writer) not only has to decide what kind of vocabulary to teach or present, how to do so, in what order, and in what context, but also must often contend with the sometimes obscure relationship between word and character in Mandarin. Practically speaking, the distinction between character and word is often decided at the stage of textbook compilation. In foreign-language textbooks, each chapter is typically equipped with a vocabulary list, where the vocabulary items listed at least reflect the writer’s decisions about what corresponds to a word. The relationship between word and character continues to be relevant for the instructor, however. As discussed above, given the morphemic nature of the script, each character in a polysyllabic word may contribute a meaning component, in some cases more clearly than in others. In addition, some characters participate more productively in word-formation than others. For the instructor, then, the important question here is how much word structure analysis to undertake in the classroom: whether to treat each word as an unanalyzed whole, or to explain the contribution of each character in a polysyllabic word, and if so to what extent, and how much emphasis to place on the meaning and use of individual characters in forming words. This issue lies at the heart of the debate over whether to treat the character or the word as the basic unit of the Chinese language, and by analogy, of TCFL vocabulary instruction: the 字本位 (*zi4 ben3wei4*) or character-centric (henceforth, *zi*-centric) approach espoused by Pan (2002) and Xu (2005), as opposed to the 词本位 (*ci2 ben3wei4*) or word-centric (henceforth, *ci*-centric) approach supported by Li (2013) and Zhao (2017). Peng and Pan (2010) presents views from both sides of the debate.

Regardless of the TCFL instructor’s emphasis on character or word, the importance of a deeper understanding of the syntactic and semantic properties of each character or word to better illustrate relevant data patterns to learners cannot be denied. This chapter presents an approach towards this goal, proposing that methods of linguistic inquiry may be fruitfully

adopted to sharpen the intuitions of the instructor or author about the meaning and use of different words or morphemes, and in turn provide the basis for more precise vocabulary teaching. In particular, I address the question of near-synonyms, and demonstrate how methods of lexical semantic inquiry may serve to aid students in word sense disambiguation. To this end, I discuss the following six pairs of near-synonyms with a shared rough gloss:

- I. 尝试 *chang2shi4* / 试图 *shi4tu2* ‘attempt’
- II. 避开 *bi4kai1* / 以免 *yi3mian3* ‘avoid’
- III. 侵占 *qin1zhan4* / 抢占 *qiang3zhan4* ‘occupy’
- IV. 作用 *zuo4yong4* / 效果 *xiao4guo3* ‘effect’
- V. 情况 *qing2kuang4* / 状况 *zhuang4kuang4* ‘situation, condition’
- VI. 逐渐 *zhu2jian4* / 逐步 *zhu2bu4* ‘gradually’

As part of the Chinese lexical system, the properties of near-synonyms are subject to the same conditions that complicate the question of wordhood, discussed above: the productive compounding process, combined with the largely morphemic nature of characters and the increasing importance of disyllabic items in the language. Given the indirect relationship between the meaning of a compound and its component morphemes, near-synonym words with a compound structure call into question again the relative importance of *zi*- and *ci*-centricity for vocabulary teaching.

Given that the same morpheme may occur in more than one compound and the possibility of a compositional meaning for a compound, we might expect words with a shared character to be near-synonyms. It is indeed the case that near-synonyms may share a character. Most of the near-synonym pairs listed above show this characteristic. There are, however, near-synonyms that do not share a character, as illustrated by the pair 作用 *zuo4yong4* and 效果 *xiao4guo3*, which are both likely to be glossed as ‘effect’. That near-synonyms might be assigned the same gloss in the language of instruction is hardly surprising, but near-synonyms that share a character are not guaranteed to receive the same gloss. This situation is illustrated by the pair 情况 *qing2kuang4* and 状况 *zhuang4kuang4*. The former is more likely to be glossed as English ‘situation’, ‘circumstances’ and the latter as ‘condition, state of affairs’. The English glosses are interchangeable in some cases, and arguably also form a near-synonym pair. A shared character is thus no guarantee of (near-)synonymity, nor are (near-)synonyms guaranteed to share a character.

This indirect relationship between character, word, and (near-)synonymity suggests that there is a role for both the *zi*- and *ci*-centric approaches in the teaching of near-synonyms, but neither is sufficient for the task in entirety. For near-synonyms with a shared character, it would be possible to highlight the contribution of the meaning of individual characters. For instance, for the pair 尝试 *chang2shi4* / 试图 *shi4tu2*, the instructor can point out that 试 *shi4* contributes a meaning of trial and testing, potentially linking these items to more familiar ones such as 考试 *kao3shi4* ‘examination’. For pairs such as 作用 and 效果, however, it is not possible to appeal to such a connection. It is of course possible to maintain a *zi*-centric approach to these items pointing out that the meaning of ‘effect’ is shared by the components 用 *yong4* ‘use/function’ and 效 *xiao4* ‘effect’, possibly also 果 *guo3* ‘result’. Depending on time constraints and student interest, as well as student exposure to, or textbook coverage of, other related items such as 功用 *gong1yong4* ‘function, use’, 效应 *xiao4ying4* ‘effect’, etc. a *zi*-centric approach could also apply here. Where student vocabularies are more limited, however, a *ci*-centric approach could be more manageable. Overall, in teaching near-synonyms, it would appear that the choice of a *zi*- or *ci*-centric approach should be determined on a case-by-case basis, depending on the nature of the near-synonym pair (or group), the knowledge base of the students, and the other

vocabulary items covered by the textbook in question. For current purposes, suffice it to note that the proposals below may be combined with both *z*- and *a*-centric approaches to vocabulary teaching. I thus do not discuss this issue in the following sections, but leave it to the instructor to determine the best way to integrate the methods introduced here with an approach most appropriate for the vocabulary items in question.

In what follows, I lay out some major methodological principles that are important for sense disambiguation, and demonstrate their implementation using specific case studies. The section on 'distribution' illustrates the use of distributional facts (i.e. what grammatical environments an item may occur in) for disambiguation. The section entitled 'teasing apart word senses' demonstrates the use of examples that pinpoint with accuracy the sense of a word. The methods and principles described in these two sections are often implicitly adhered to in textbook vocabulary and grammar exercises, for instance, forced choice tasks for students to complete a sentence with an appropriate item. Thus the discussion of these two points does not advocate anything very novel or surprising, but simply makes explicit methods of reasoning instructors may already adopt. The main objectives of clarifying these methods is first, to equip language instructors (and compilers of textbooks or supplementary materials) with more resources for class preparation in vocabulary instruction, and second, to present further possibilities for more vividly describing and distinguishing closely related word senses to students.

A more novel proposal of this work is the use of a 'soft' understanding of word sense, discussed in the section on 'a gradient understanding of the core sense of a word', which crucially acknowledges that many words do indeed have overlapping meanings and uses, and yet are not exact synonyms. Still, despite such overlaps, each individual item may yet have a distinct 'central' sense that can be identified with the appropriate data. Fine-grained distinctions such as these are difficult to intuit. In such cases, corpus data can be useful for instructors to garner empirical support for their speaker intuitions. In my discussion, I shall make extensive use of frequency data obtained from the Peking University Center for Chinese Linguistics online corpus.

The method discussed in each of these three sections will be illustrated through two of the near-synonym pairs in I–VI introduced above. A further thread relevant through all of these three sections is the use of negative examples, (i.e. unacceptable/incorrect sentences) to demonstrate a point or present a contrast, standard practice in linguistic argumentation that can be a vivid illustration technique that could help instructors clarify word senses both for themselves and for their students. This method is proposed in part as a direct response to student questions, which often take the form of how one vocabulary item differs from another. Also, Hong (2013) shows that, for the same amount of classroom time, an explicit approach incorporating negative examples in teaching vocabulary shows significantly better results than an implicit approach that merely presents examples of correct usage. These factors suggest that the use of negative examples is at least pertinent to the teaching of near-synonyms, and their use could potentially facilitate learning.

A more general goal of this work is to demonstrate the applicability of methods of linguistic inquiry in TCFL vocabulary instruction. Every foreign-language textbook has a section on 'grammar' for each chapter, and consensus exists that an adequate description of grammar must always be informed by concepts of linguistic theory. Linguistic theory and argumentation typically remain the purview of pedagogical researchers and teachers, however, and are seldom made explicit to students. Where such concepts are appealed to in language textbooks, they tend to be presented as received wisdom and seldom as working hypotheses that may undergo revision or refinement. Yet even in this limited fashion, the concepts and methods of linguistic theory are not usually applied in vocabulary teaching. With the wider semantic range of vocabulary and the increasing importance of the formal register as proficiency rises,

TCFL vocabulary instruction at the advanced level constantly presents challenges that, as Fu (2007) points out, call for ever more adroitness and resourcefulness on the part of the instructor. This chapter adopts the premise that a better integration of theoretical methods in linguistic research could benefit the TCFL classroom. The preceding three sections speak to this methodological integration in course content. In the section entitled ‘back to the classroom’, I discuss how to operationalize the incorporation of this content in the TCFL classroom. The chapter ends on an anticipatory note for the methods discussed to be more widely adopted in foreign-language teaching.

Distribution

The use of distributional data to determine the part of speech category or the sense of a word is one of the most basic investigative tools used in linguistic analysis. Probably all teachers and students of Mandarin have learnt at some point that in Mandarin, only verbs may be followed by an object, and reduplication in the ABAB form always indicates a verb (see e.g. Zhu (1982/2007)). The distributional approach to sense disambiguation would be familiar to many foreign-language instructors and students. The discussion below, included for completeness, will thus be kept brief.

The pair 尝试 *chang2shi4* / 试图 *shi4tu2* are an illustrative example of near-synonyms that may be fruitfully distinguished through their distribution. The members of this pair share the character 试 *shi4* ‘to attempt’, and both are likely to be glossed as ‘attempt’. The sense of their similarity may be further strengthened (for English-speaking learners) by the ambiguity of English *attempt* between verb and noun. Simple introspection by a native speaker will reveal that 试图 is a verb, while 尝试 shows both verbal and nominal behavior. This is the crucial point to convey to students, and the most direct way to do so of course is to simply state the fact. But merely annotating 尝试 as verb or noun, and 试图 as verb is insufficient to clarify the subtler distinctions between these items. Not only does 尝试 have two possible parts of speech, as a verb it is also more flexible than 试图. As (1–2) show, 尝试 allows both nominal and verbal complements while 试图 combines only with a verbal complement (following convention in the field of linguistics, an asterisk * indicates unacceptability).⁴ (3) demonstrates that 尝试 but not 试图 may be used as a noun.

- (1) 请 您 尝试/*试图 本店 的新 产品。
 qing3 nin2 **chang2shi4/*shi4tu2** ben3 dian4 de xin1 chan3pin3⁵
 please 2sg try self store DE new product
 Please try our store’s new product.
- (2) 我 尝试/试图 向他 解释。
 wo3 **chang2shi4/shi4tu2** xiang4 ta1 jie3shi4
 1pl try towards 3sg explain
 I tried explaining to him/her.
- (3) 请 不 要 进行 这 种 危险 的 尝试/*试图。
 qing3 bu4 yao4 jin4xing2 zhe4 zhong3 wei1xian3 de **chang2shi4/*shi4tu2**
 please NEG want carry.out this kind dangerous DE attempt
 Please don’t make this kind of dangerous attempt.

Example (2) acknowledges the reason for the learner's potential confusion: 尝试 and 试图 do indeed show similarities, but examples such as (1) and (3), with their contrasting acceptability, also illustrate clearly that these items are quite distinct.

The case of 尝试 and 试图 is relatively straightforward, but even from this simple case study, it may already be clear that an explanation at this level of granularity is far more feasible in the classroom than in a textbook, a written grammar, or some online resource. Printed material is restricted by space constraints, while developers of online resources cannot immediately predict what kinds of items learners may find confusing. The near-synonym pair 避开 *bi4kai1*/ 以免 *yi3mian3* 'avoid' is a case in point.

For native Mandarin speakers, 避开 and 以免 are intuitively very different. As illustrated below, the former is a verb and the latter is a clause connective. Interestingly, the most likely English gloss for both these items is *avoid*, thus creating confusion for English-speaking learners. Distributional facts may be used to demonstrate the contrast between these two items. (4)-(5) below show that 避开 is a transitive verb taking a nominal object, and much like English *avoid*, its object may describe concrete entities such as human individuals or places (4), or more abstract entities such as questions (5). In stark contrast, 以免 is unable to occur in the same environment.

- (4) 你 为什么 要 避开/*以免 我/这 个 地方?
 ni3 wei4shenme yao4 **bi4kai1/*yi3mian3** wo3 / zhe4 ge di4fang
 2sg why want avoid 1pl/this MW place
 Why are you avoiding me/this place?

- (5) 他们 一直 避开/*以免 记者 的 问题。
 tamen1 yi4zhi2 **bi4kai1/*yi3mian3** ji4zhe3 de wen4ti2
 3PL continuously avoid reporter DE question
 They kept avoiding the reporter's questions.

Rather, as (6) shows, 以免 is a clausal connective that requires a preceding clause and a following one, linking the two such that the first clause describes an action that is performed to avoid the situation in the second. The use of 避开 is not possible here.

- (6) 请 尽早 求医 以免/*避开 病情 恶化
 qing3 jin4zao3 qiu2yi1 **yi3mian3/*bi4kai1** bing4qing2 e4hua
 please asap seek.medical.attention avoid health.condition worsen
 Please seek medical attention as soon as possible to avoid your condition worsening.

The preceding cases constitute relatively straightforward examples, involving pairs with distinct distributional patterns, which may be used to highlight differences between items for which a shared gloss in the instructional language may provide misleading cue to their patterning. Below, I turn to cases for which the distinctions between the members of each close-synonym pair pertain to conceptual meaning rather than grammatical behavior.

Teasing Apart Word Senses

In most cases, the near-synonyms that students find difficult to distinguish also pattern together grammatically, so that syntactic distribution is insufficient for differentiating between them. To distinguish

between the core senses of each item of a synonym pair in such cases, it is necessary to appeal to distinctions in conceptual and sometimes connotative meanings that are often quite subtle. Here, the explanatory task for the instructor is perhaps just as difficult as the learning task for the student. As above, I discuss two pairs: first, a pair of verbs with a shared character that happens also to receive the same English gloss, and then a pair of nouns with a shared English gloss but no shared character.

The members of the verbal pair 侵占 *qin1zhan4* / 抢占 *qiang3zhan4* are likely to be glossed as ‘occupy’. They share a character 占 *zhan4* ‘occupy’, and both 侵 *qin1* ‘invade’ and 抢 *qiang3* ‘snatch by force’ describe forceful, predatory acts. Their uses are quite distinct, however: 侵占 indicates wrongful invasion and occupation of land or obtainment of others’ property by force. In contrast, 抢占 is largely used to describe corporate strategies in the commercial market, i.e. to grab market share. It is also used in the military sense of troops occupying some place, but interestingly, unlike 侵占, it may be used with a sense of approbation, for instance, to describe the success of troops the speaker/writer identifies with.

For the instructor, it could be a useful exercise to make use of online resources such as the Peking University Center for Chinese Linguistics (PKU-CCCL) online corpus (http://ccl.pku.edu.cn:8080/ccl_corpus/) to gather supporting evidence. As Table 17.1 below shows, out of 2,105 examples containing 侵占, there are 98 instances in which 侵占 occurs with the word 财产 *cai2chan3* ‘possessions’ (with up to four intervening characters) (see (7)), but there are no instances of 抢占 with the same search parameters. This highlights the ‘property grab’ sense of 侵占 and shows that it is not a sense associated with 抢占.

- (7) 侵占了 巨额 财产
 qin1zhan4-le ju4e2 cai2chan3
 occupy-PERF large.amount property
 wrongfully seize large amounts of property

In contrast, out of 1,852 instances of 抢占 in the corpus, there are 552 instances (almost 30% of the total), in which 市场 *shi4chang3* ‘market’ follows the verb (with up to four intervening characters) (see (8)), whereas the same search parameters for 侵占 returns only 10 examples. This indicates clearly that the market strategy sense is predominant for 抢占 (along with a sense of speediness and squatters’ rights), but negligible for 侵占.

- (8) 抢占 全球 汽车 市场 最 大 份额
 qiang3zhan4 quan2qiu2 qi4che1 shi4chang3 zui4 da4 fen4e2
 occupy global automobile market most big share
 occupy the greatest share of the global automobile market

Based on comparisons of this sort presented by the instructor, students should then be able to determine that the blank in (9a) should be filled with 抢占, whereas that in (9b) should be completed with 侵占.

Table 17.1 Object nominals following 侵占 and 抢占

V+up to four characters followed by	侵占 <i>qin1zhan4</i> <i>N</i> = 2,105	抢占 <i>qiang3zhan4</i> <i>N</i> = 1,852
财产 <i>cai2chan3</i> ‘property’	98	0
市场 <i>shi4chang3</i> ‘market’	10	552

- (9) 美国 刚 开发 的 时候,
 Mei3guo2 gang1 kai1fa1 de shi2hou4
 America just develop DE while
 When America was just opening up,
- (a) 谁 先 到 一 个 地方 就 可以 ____ 土地。
 shei2 xian1 dao4 yi4 ge4 di4fang jiu4 ke3yi3 tu3di4
 who first arrive one MW place then can occupy land
 whoever arrived first at a place could occupy the land.
- (b) 白人 ____了 印第安人 的 土地。
 bai2ren2 -le Yin4di4an1ren2 de tu3di4
 white.people occupy-PERF Indian.people DE land
 white people occupied the lands of Native Americans.

A similar case is presented by the pair 作用 *zuo4yong4* / 效果 *xiao4guo3*. The members of this pair are both nouns, and they are not only glossed alike as ‘effect’, but may indeed also be used interchangeably in some contexts. For instance:

- (10) 这 种 药 好像 没 有 什么 效果/作用。
 zhe4 zhong3 yao4 hao3xiang4 mei2 you3 shenme xiao4guo3 / zuo4yong4
 this kind medicine as.if NEG have what effect
 This kind of medicine doesn’t seem to have any effect.

For native speakers, however, it seems intuitively clear that the two words are not entirely synonymous. I hypothesize that the distinction lies in a positive connotation associated with 效果 but not with 作用. That is, 作用 is a relatively neutral equivalent for English *effect* or *function*, but 效果 is better understood as meaning ‘desired effect’. Several kinds of contrasts provide evidence for this point.

First, at least at an intuitive level, it appears more likely that 效果 is more often described as 好 *hao3* ‘good’/ 坏 *huai4* ‘bad’/ 不好 *bu4hao3* ‘not good’, while 作用 is more often described as 大 *da4* ‘big’/ 小 *xiao3* ‘small’. This intuition receives support from preliminary search data using the PKU-CCCL corpus. A simple search for 效果 and 作用 followed immediately by 好, 不好, 大 and 不大 *bu4da4* ‘not big’ shows that 好 occurs most frequently after 效果 compared with the other three strings, while 大 occurs most frequently after 作用, and both 大 and 不大 occur after 作用 far more frequently than 好 and 不好.

The numbers reported here are raw numbers, with no qualitative analysis of the data undertaken, but the patterns are suggestive: 效果好 *xiao4guo3hao3* ‘effect is good’ is the most likely among all the other possibilities searched, supporting the intuition that 效果 connotes a desired

Table 17.2 效果 and 作用 with the adjectives 好 ‘good’, 大 ‘big’ and their negations

	效果 <i>xiao4guo3</i> <i>N</i> = 2,7961	作用 <i>zuo4yong4</i> <i>N</i> = 11,5990
好 <i>hao3</i>	614	27
不好 <i>bu4hao3</i> ‘not good’	123	4
大 <i>da4</i>	103	264
不大 <i>bu4da4</i>	42	108

effect. That is, the co-occurrence of 效果 with the positive adjective 好 far exceeds its occurrence with the negative 不好 and the neutral 大 and 不大. It also far exceeds the almost negligible occurrence of 作用 with 好/不好. These patterns suggest that 效果 does have positive associations. 作用 is most likely to occur with 大, with 不大 coming in a healthy second, but it is far less likely to occur with either 好 or its negation. These patterns also support the intuition that 作用 is relatively neutral, and does not have positive connotations of 效果.

Further support, albeit somewhat indirect, can be gleaned from the participation of these nouns as the head in a compound noun. In certain conventional pairings, it can be seen that modifiers adding a negative component to the meaning of the whole compound combine with 作用 rather than 效果. In (11a–b) below, the words that combine with the two nouns under discussion have no inherently positive or negative connotations, and the conventional pairing is with 效果. (11c–e) have taken on certain negative connotations, and the conventional pairing is with 作用.

- (11) a. 音响效果/*作用 *yin1xiang3xiao4guo3/*zuo4yong4* ‘sound effects’
 b. 视觉效果/*作用 *shi4jue2xiao4guo3/*zuo4yong4* ‘visual effects’
 c. 心理作用/*效果 *xin1li3zuo4yong4/*xiao4guo3* ‘psychological effects’
 d. 化学作用/*效果 *hua4xue2zuo4yong4/*xiao4guo3* ‘chemical effects’
 e. 副作用/*效果 *fu4zuo4yong4/*xiao4guo3* ‘side effects’

That it is 作用 rather than 效果 that occurs as the head noun in the negatively connotated compounds is again consistent with the notion that 作用 has no positive connotations but 效果 does.⁶

A Gradient Understanding of the Core Sense of a Word

The distinctions between the near-synonym pairs discussed in the preceding section, while requiring some introspection, are still reasonably available to native speaker intuition. I have presented the corpus data partly as evidence to support my intuitions, and partly to introduce the potential of such data as a pedagogical resource. For certain near-synonym pairs, however, the meaning distinctions may be quite subtle and not easily accessible to speaker intuition.⁷ In such cases, which tend to involve shared-character pairs, corpus data becomes an extremely useful tool for the instructor to gain a clearer sense of which sense may be considered central for some item. In this section, I propose that it may sometimes be necessary to subscribe to a gradient understanding of the sense of a word. Although, as Cruse (2004: 154–155) notes, absolute synonyms are rare, if a pair of words shows a high degree of overlap in meaning, it may only be possible to identify the central sense of each in a gradient and relative fashion, by examining the kinds of contexts with which each is more compatible, relative both to other contexts and to a near-synonym. Below, I discuss two closely related shared-character pairs.

In the pair 情况 *qing2kuang4* / 状况 *zhuang4kuang4*, 情况 is more likely to be glossed as English ‘situation’, ‘circumstances’, and 状况 as ‘condition, state of affairs’. The English glosses might suggest to learners that 状况 is the word to use in combination with 健康 *jian4kang1* ‘health’ and 身体 *shen1ti3* ‘body’, since *condition* is the appropriate word to use when describing an individual’s health, while *situation* and *circumstance* would be used for describing larger-scale entities, such as societies. I will show that in a way, these glosses do reflect the core meaning of each member of this pair, but only to a certain extent. For now, note first that our hypothetical learner’s expectations are not fulfilled: all of (12a–d) are attested and grammatical in the language, and all refer to (an individual’s) health condition.

- (12) a. 健康情况 *jian4kang1 qing2kuang4*
 b. 身体情况 *shen1ti3 qing2kuang4*
 c. 健康状况 *jian4kang1 zhuang4kuang*
 d. 身体状况 *shen1ti3 zhuang4kuang*

The *possibility* of co-occurrence alone is less illuminating than its *probability*, however, and closer examination of corpus data can help determine more precisely the sense of each member in the near-synonym pair.

Table 17.3 below presents contrasting frequencies of 状况 and 情况 co-occurring with 身体 and 健康, as well as in a third environment, discussed further below.

As the first two rows of Table 17.3 indicate, the corpus data confirm that all examples in (12a-d) are acceptable in Mandarin. Crucially, though, while (12a-d) all constitute small proportions of the total instances of 状况 and 情况, (12c, d) exceed (12a, b) both in terms of proportion relative to the head noun, and in terms of actual numbers. This is especially suggestive given that the total instances of 状况 number less than a quarter of the total instances of 情况. Even if the occurrences for (12a-d) had been equal in number, (12c, d) would still have constituted a greater proportion of instances relative to 状况 than (12a, b) would have for 情况. As they are, the statistics suggest that, in the overall picture for the use of 情况, examples such as (12a, b) are only incidental, whereas for 状况, (12c, d) constitute regular possibilities.

In addition, 情况 is far more likely to occur in the pattern 在...下 *zai4...-xia4* 'at... under, i.e. under (the circumstances) of...' (13), relative both to its near synonym 状况, and to other co-occurring items such as (12a, b). In (14), we see also that 状况 may also be used in the 在...下 collocation pattern, but in a far smaller proportion relative to its near-synonym 情况.

- (13) 在 全盘 自动化 的 情况 下
zai4 quan2pan2 zi4dong4hua4 de qing2kuang4 xia4
 be.at complete automated DE situation below
 under the circumstance of complete automation
- (14) 在 最 适宜 的 天气 状况 下
zai4 zui4 shi4yi2 de tian1qi4 zhuang4kuang4 xia4
 be.at most favorable DE weather condition below
 under the most favorable weather conditions

The 在...下 environment does not necessarily show much about the core sense of either 情况 or 状况, but it allows the user to distinguish these words in terms of their distributional tendencies. Again, the key point here is that although 情况 and 状况 may occur in the same environments, they may still be distinguished in terms of which item is predisposed to a particular environment.

Table 17.3 A comparison of 状况 and 情况

	状况 <i>zhuang4kuang4</i> <i>N = 41,098</i>	情况 <i>qing2kuang4</i> <i>N = 17,7068</i>
身体 <i>shen1ti3</i> 'body'	1215 (2.95%)	171 (<0.1 %)
健康 <i>jian4kang1</i> 'health'	1583 (3.85%)	197 (<0.1%)
在 +up to 6 characters+下	420 (1%)	1,7385 (9.8%)

Summing up briefly, then, 情况 and 状况 are indeed close synonyms given that they may be used in similar collocations, yet in statistical terms, their distributional tendencies are clearly distinct. The kind of data given here is not only helpful for the instructor to gain a stronger grasp of the sense distinctions between items with similar meaning and usage patterns, I propose they may also be presented to students both to highlight the data patterns, and to convey the complexity of the situation. Perhaps no other argument is more persuasive than data in convincing students that there is no direct Mandarin equivalent to many English words, and that there is no easy answer to the question of what a word ‘means’, or even how one word differs from another.

The final example in this chapter, 逐渐 *zhu2jian4* / 逐步 *zhu2bu4*, is a pair of near-synonym adverbials, which also share a character, and which may both be glossed as *gradually*. The online dictionary *iciba* (www.iciba.com/) also glosses 逐渐 as ‘little by little’, ‘by degrees’, and 逐步 as ‘step by step’, but without further illustration, these distinctions in English gloss may not be of much use for the student to determine which item to use in what context. Indeed, it may not cause much, if any, of a problem in this case if students were simply told that these items are interchangeable. I show here, however, that a distinction between these items, albeit a fine one, can still be made between the members of this pair if we adopt the gradient approach towards describing word sense proposed here. Specifically, I argue that while these adverbials may be used interchangeably, 逐渐 is oriented towards describing spontaneously or at least non-deliberately caused self-occurring change, whereas 逐步 is oriented towards deliberate, externally controlled change. This distinction is quite subtle, and taps into concepts such as change arising from an external cause, as opposed to change that can arise spontaneously without the intervention of an agent, which have been appealed to in theories of lexical semantics (see e.g. Levin and Rappaport Hovav 1995). Space constraints prevent further elaboration of this distinction, but by investigating the co-occurrence of each adverb with verbs selected based on the externally caused/spontaneously arising criterion, it is possible to distinguish between these adverbs.

The verbs listed in Table 17.4 below have been selected according to the kinds of change they describe. The first, 建立 *jian4li4* ‘establish’, clearly describes change brought about by an external agent. 减弱 *jian3ruo4* ‘weaken’ was selected because it can be used either as a transitive verb describing externally caused change (15) or as an intransitive verb describing spontaneously arising change (16), but a cursory examination of the data on the PKU-CCCL corpus suggests that it is overwhelmingly used intransitively. Finally, 出现 *chu1xian4* ‘appear’ is an intransitive verb that describes an individual coming to be at a location, and it cannot be used as a causative verb to mean ‘cause to appear’.

- (15) 动荡 的 政局 减弱了 港口 的 吸引力。
 dong4dang4 de zheng4ju2 jian3ruo4-le gang3kou3 de x1iyin3li4
 turbulent DE political.situation weaken-PERF harbor DE attraction
 The turbulent political situation has reduced the attractiveness of the harbor.
 (externally caused change)

- (16) 雨势 明显 减弱 了。
 yu3shi4 ming2xian3 jian3ruo4 le
 rain.power obvious weaken SFP
 The rain has obviously become less heavy. (spontaneously arising change)

As Table 17.4 shows, there is a clear bifurcation in the preferences of the two adverbials. With 建立, a verb that describes external causation, 逐步 is the preferred adverbial. In contrast, for 减弱 ‘weaken’ and 出现 ‘appear’, the preference is for 逐渐 over 逐步. Although the numbers and

Table 17.4 The occurrence of 逐渐 and 逐步 with verbs describing externally caused or spontaneously arising change

逐渐 <i>zhu2jian4</i> /逐步 <i>zhu2bu4</i> +up to 6 char+ V	逐步 <i>zhu2bu4</i> N = 4, 0135	逐渐 <i>zhu2jian4</i> N = 2, 5751
建立 <i>jian4li4</i> 'establish'	3180 (7.9%)	138 (0.5%)
减弱 <i>jian3ruo4</i> 'weaken'	69 (0.1%)	226 (0.9%)
出现 <i>chu1xian4</i> 'appear'	73 (0.1%)	154 (0.6%)

percentages for 减弱 and 出现 with 逐渐 are not high, they are a few times higher than those for which these verbs occur with 逐步. This is again suggestive given that the total number of occurrences of 逐步 overall is close to twice that of 逐渐. These asymmetries in the preference of different classes of verbs in adverbial selection provide a glimpse to what we might consider the core sense of each adverb.

Again, as with 情况 and 状况 above, 逐渐 and 逐步 are largely interchangeable items with no distinction in syntactic distribution, and each may be used in place of the other to modify the same verbs. By examining the relative frequencies of their occurrences with different classes of verbs, however, it is still possible to distinguish between these very near-synonyms, further exemplifying the gradient notion of word sense discussed above.

The pairs 情况/状况 and 逐渐/逐步 may be difficult even for native speakers to tease apart. As demonstrated above, simple co-occurrence frequencies, with judicious setting of search parameters, may do much to help the instructor distinguish between closely related senses. It should further be emphasized that sense disambiguation here receives a gradient interpretation. Rather than asserting that item 1 expresses sense A and item 2 expresses sense B, it is necessary to accept that both items 1 and 2 may express senses A and B, but item 1 is more frequently used in contexts expressing sense A, and item 2 is more likely to be used in contexts expressing sense B.

Back to the Classroom

The methods proposed above are geared more towards lesson content than instructional planning. This section briefly discusses possible applications for the instructor and potentially, the textbook author. As noted above, and as the examples discussed suggest, the proposals here are more suited for advanced or at least intermediate-level coursework. I have found these investigations of word meaning to be useful in combination with a student-centred classroom, in which students contribute to steering classroom discussion, since it is often difficult for instructors to predict what confusion or similarities students may perceive.

Operationally, both students and instructor have a part to play. Students will be assigned to ask questions about a lesson before a class meeting—more appropriately not the first meeting for a particular lesson, as the in-depth discussion such questions may spur require some prior background. As near-synonyms tend to be found across lessons, it may also be useful to schedule such discussion sessions two or three lessons apart, depending on class size and student interest. Submission of student questions should be scheduled in advance of class time, to leave the instructor sufficient time to seek out illustrative examples and construct relevant exercises, as well as to combine discussion of similar or overlapping items raised by students. The use of online shared files, such as Google documents, is helpful for this purpose. For the instructor, apart from directly addressing student questions, the results obtained regarding the appropriate use of each item may be productively applied in constructing exercises such as the forced choice cloze tasks described for 侵占/抢占.

The fine-grained sense distinctions obtainable through the methods described above may also help to provide more precise vocabulary definitions and more illustrative vocabulary exercises in the writing of textbooks and supplementary materials. Given, however, that near-synonyms may not be found in the same lesson, and that at the advanced level, instructors might not cover every lesson in a textbook, or do so in sequence, explanations or exercises that distinguish between near-synonyms might be more productively designed as supplementary material rather than as part of the main material. Overall, the methods here were employed to facilitate interactive classroom activity, and this may be what they are best suited to.

Concluding Remarks

An understanding of linguistic theory is often considered important in the training of the language instructor. This emphasis typically translates to required coursework in theoretical linguistics, but too often the focus of such courses is on content transmission, teaching received theoretical wisdom rather than methods of linguistic inquiry. Yet the language instructor's task often involves some degree of linguistic inquiry, especially at advanced levels, where textbooks and written grammars begin to become insufficient for satisfying student curiosity as the students' knowledge of the target language grows. This chapter describes how, by integrating methods of theoretical inquiry, instructors may pinpoint precise data patterns to help create a convincing response to student queries, in the hope that that such methodological practices may eventually become the norm in the foreign-language classroom.

Acknowledgment

The synonym pairs in this chapter are material from an Advanced Chinese course (Chinese 302) I taught at Wellesley College during Spring 2017, using vocabulary items from selected chapters in Foti, Li and Wang's (2008) textbook *Discussing Everything Chinese*. The examples are from corpora or a Google search, modified to facilitate student access and limit instructional time. I thank the Chinese 302 students for many difficult questions about how one word differs from another, which were the direct inspiration for this chapter. I also thank the editors of this volume and two anonymous reviewers for their prescient and helpful comments, not all of which I could fully address. Any errors or misinterpretations are mine.

Notes

- 1 Interagency Language Roundtable, see www.govtilr.org/Skills/ILRscale1.htm.
- 2 American Council on the Teaching of Foreign Languages, see www.actfl.org/sites/default/files/pdfs/public/ACTFLProficiencyGuidelines2012_FINAL.pdf.
- 3 In this chapter, I discuss 'teaching Chinese as a foreign language', but for the most part I will use 'Mandarin' to refer to the Chinese language taught in the TCFL classroom, which, as Chen (1999) notes, is better labeled 'Modern Standard Chinese', reserving 'Chinese' to refer to the Chinese language family. Occasionally for better rhetorical continuity I may use 'Chinese' instead of 'Mandarin', in keeping with TCFL convention, relying on context to provide the necessary disambiguation.
- 4 Proponents of a *zi*-centric approach could argue here that the discussing the semantic contribution of each character could do much to help disambiguate between members of this (and later) pairs. I entirely agree that deeper knowledge of individual characters will be helpful in understanding and distinguishing between the composite items they occur in. The current proposal in no way advocates abandoning the teaching of character contribution. What I offer is simply one more way to approach the issue of near-synonym distinction.

- 5 Abbreviations used: 1/2/3: 1st/2nd/3rd person; NEG = negation; MW = measure word; PERF = perfective; PL = plural; SFP = sentence-final particle.
- 6 It could even be argued that 音响效果 *yin1xiang3xiao4guo3* 'sound effects' and 视觉效果 *xiao4guo3* 'visual effects' have some kind of positive connotation because the existence of such effects in a production already indicates that some operation (of adding them in) was successful!
- 7 Of course, how accessible certain sense distinctions are to native speakers is individual to each speaker, depending on factors such as professional background, training, and experience with the language. This work does not attempt to identify certain sense distinctions as being more or less accessible. The purpose here is to present methods that can help to confirm or shed light on such sense distinctions.

References

English References

- Chen, P. (1999) *Modern Chinese: History and Sociolinguistics*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Cruse, A. (2004) *Meaning in Language: An Introduction to Semantics and Pragmatics*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Levin, B. and Rappaport Hovav, M. (1995) *Unaccusativity: At the Syntax-Lexical Semantics Interface*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- Packard, J. L. (2000) *The Morphology of Chinese*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Shei, C. (2014) *Understanding the Chinese Language: A Comprehensive Linguistic Introduction*. New York: Routledge.

Chinese References

- Foti, Li-li Teng, Li, Rongzhen and Wang, Yu-lin 邓立立, 李戎真, 王郁林 (2008) 中国面面谈下册 (Discussing Everything Chinese Vol. 2). MyChineseClass LLC.
- Fu, Hongchu 傅鸿础 (2007) '中文词汇教学再议' The teaching of Chinese vocabulary revisited. 首届对美汉语教学暨第六届国际汉语教学研讨会论文拔萃 (Selected papers from the 1st Conference on Teaching Chinese in the US and the 6th International Conference on Chinese Language Teaching) 221–224.
- Hong, Wei 洪 炜 (2013) '汉语作为第二语言的近义词教学研究' (An empirical study of teaching near-synonyms in Chinese as a foreign language) 世界汉语教学 (Chinese Language Teaching in the World) 27(3): 424–432.
- Li, Depeng 李德鹏 2013. '论汉语的语素就是词' (On the word as the basic linguistic unit in Chinese). 汉语学报 (Chinese Linguistics) 42(2): 90–94.
- Luo, Qingsong 罗青松 (1997) '英语国家学生学习汉语词汇的心理特征与教学策略' (Psychological characteristics and teaching strategies in the learning of Chinese by students in English-speaking countries) 第五届国际汉语教学讨论会论文选 (Selected Proceedings of the 5th International Symposium on Chinese Language Teaching) 43–60.
- Pan, Wenguo 潘文国 (2002) 字本位与汉语研究 (Zi-centricity and Chinese Language Research) 上海市华东师范大学出版社 (Shanghai: Huadong Normal University Press).
- Peng, Zerun and Pan, Wenguo 彭泽润, 潘文国 (2010) "'词本位" 还是 "字本位" 有利于汉语教学?' (Is *ci*-centricity or *zi*-centricity better for Chinese language teaching?) 通化师范大学学报 (Journal of Tonghua Normal University) 31(9): 6–11, 23.
- Xu, Tongqiang 徐通锵 (2005) "'字本位" 和语言研究' (Zi-centricity and language research) 语言教学与研究 (Language Teaching and Linguistic Studies) 27(6): 5–15.
- Zhao, Jinming 赵金铭 (2017) '汉语作为第二语言教学的基本单位' (The basic unit in teaching Chinese as a second language) 国际汉语教学研究. (International Research on Teaching Chinese) 3: 19–25.
- Zhu, Dexi 朱德熙 (1982/2007) 语法讲义 (Lectures on Syntax) 北京商务印书馆 Beijing: The Commercial Press.

Teaching Chinese Adverbs

Yan Li

Introduction

As a strong analytic language, Chinese employs word order and function words to mark grammatical relationships and convey grammatical meanings. Adverbs are an important type of function word in Chinese used to modify any part of the language other than a noun, i.e. verbs, adjectives, clauses, and other adverbs. In general, adverbs can be categorized into seven classes: scope adverbs (都, 光, 单, 只), degree adverbs (很, 挺, 怪, 更, 最, 太, 好, 真, 较, 非常, 十分, 特别, 尤其, 稍微, 不大), time adverbs (马上, 立刻, 刚, 刚刚, 已经, 曾经, 重, 重新, 就, 才, 常, 常常, 时常, 时时, 忽然, 连忙, 老, 总, 往往, 一直, 永远, 仍旧, 偶尔, 从来), repetition adverbs (又, 再, 还, 也), estimation adverbs (大概, 也许), negation adverbs (不, 没有) and adverbs expressing tone of speech (可, 却, 倒, 并, 又, 简直, 反而, 究竟, 到底).

Some adverbs, such as some time adverbs (常常, 刚, 正在, 已经 etc.), are not very different from other vocabulary items, but some are challenging for Chinese learners to learn due to their abstract meanings, the nuances in their usage and their complicated distribution. The use of some adverbs depends on syntactic, semantic, and pragmatic factors. As the use of adverbs in Chinese is unavoidable, adverbs are introduced to Chinese learners at a very early stage in their studies; however, studies have shown that even Chinese learners at advanced levels still have problems using adverbs correctly (Li 2009). Adverbs should be one of the focal points in vocabulary instruction at different levels. In this chapter, we will first discuss the general properties of Chinese adverbs, and then briefly outline the main research on adverbs, following which we will discuss the pedagogical strategies that can be used in the teaching of Chinese adverbs.

Properties of Chinese Adverbs

Even though many adverbs have their own peculiarities in distribution, as a group, they do share a few common properties.

An adverb can only be used as an adverbial adjunct modifying other verbs or verb phrases (VP), adjectives or adjective phrases (AP), and clauses. Adverbs usually occur at the beginning of the VP or AP, before the verb/adjective and any prepositional phrase (Ross 2004). For example,

- (1) 我常给妈妈打电话。
'I often call my mom'.

Most adverbs cannot be used alone to answer a question. For example:

- (2) Q: 他们都回来了吗?
'Did they all come back?'
A: 都回来了/*都
'They all came back. /*All'.

Adverbs are excluded from V-NEG-V structures (Ross 2004). For example:

- (3) a. *你很不很喜欢学中文?
b. *你很喜欢不很喜欢学中文?
c. 你喜欢不喜欢学中文?
'Do you like learning Chinese or not?'

Some adverbs can function as link words. For example:

- (4) 我做完作业就回家。
'I'll go home immediately after finishing my homework'.

In the sentence in (4), the adverb 就 functions as a link word to connect two verbal phrases.

Research on Chinese Adverbs

The main body of research on Chinese adverbs has been conducted in China and in Chinese. These studies can be categorized into three types: research on the properties and uses of adverbs (Zhu 1981; Ma 1983a; Ma 1983b; Lu and Ma 1985; Cheng 1995; Peng 1999; Xiao 2003); research on errors that learners of Chinese often make in using adverbs (Ye 2001; Hu 2003; D. Li 1995; Li 2004; He 2003; Huang 2009; Xie 2005; Zhou and Wang 2007), and research on the acquisition sequence of some adverbs (Li 2002; J. Liu 2009; J. Wang 1997; B. Wang 2001). These studies help Chinese language instructors understand the uses and characteristics of some challenging adverbs, better anticipate problems that Chinese learners may have and better understand the process of the acquisition of some adverbs. Many studies investigated errors that Chinese learners often make through error analysis. The main errors in using adverbs arise from problems with word order, missing key elements that should co-occur with the adverbs, underuse, overuse, and misuse of the adverbs. The reasons behind these errors are mainly the influence of learners' native language, a lack of awareness of collocation requirements, and the incorrect understanding of the use of adverbs. In the following section, we will discuss the pedagogical strategies that Chinese instructors can employ in teaching Chinese adverbs.

Teaching Chinese Adverbs

The general principles behind the teaching of Chinese adverbs align with those in foreign-language education: introduce new features one at a time, start with uses that are easier to process and move on to the harder ones, use explicit instruction followed by comprehension and production activities, and build in timely reviews and constant summaries of the uses that the students have been exposed to. In addition to the general instructional principles, different Chinese adverbs require different approaches in teaching. Some adverbs require that teachers pay special attention to word order, some require repeated emphasis on their role in fulfilling Chinese syntactic requirements, and some express special aspectual meanings and have special semantic conditions that must be met in order to be used correctly.

Word Order Problems in Using Chinese Adverbs

Word order is important in teaching some Chinese adverbs partly because of the influence of learners' native language: English, in the case of the discussion in this chapter. Adverbs in Chinese must be placed before the VP or AP. This is a very straightforward rule in Chinese, but English-speaking learners of Chinese might get confused by those Chinese adverbs that correspond to words in English. The scope adverb 都 is one of these adverbs. 都 is introduced in the first few chapters in beginning Chinese class and is generally glossed as *all/both* in English. In Chinese, 都 has to be placed before a VP/AP. However, in English *all/both* can be used either before or after a noun. When English-speaking learners of Chinese equate 都 with *all/both* in English, they produce ungrammatical Chinese sentences such as those shown in (5) and (6).

- (5) *我们都说中文。
Intended meaning: 'All of us speak Chinese'.
- (6) *我喜欢他们都。
Intended meaning: 'I like them all'.

Another adverb that English-speaking learners of Chinese tend to place before the subjects or the topics of a sentence is 先 'first'. Though, in English, *first*, can be used before a complete sentence, in Chinese, 先 cannot be placed before a subject or the topic of a sentence. The following two erroneous sentences are taken from the homework completed by advanced Chinese learners.

- (7) *先我看电视。
Intended meaning: 'First, I watch TV'.
- (8) *先, 我们必须定义理想。
Intended meaning: 'First, we must define ideals'.

The Chinese adverb 也 is also often misplaced before a subject or the topic of a sentence, as shown in (9) and (10).

- (9) *外甥女照顾了她的舅舅, 也自己变成了一个伟大的可怕的强盗。
Intended meaning: 'The niece took care of her uncle. Also she herself became a great and horrible robber'.

- (10) *我们聚集的时候会打排球，也有时我们男孩和爸爸打篮球。

Intended meaning: 'When we get together, sometimes we play volleyball; also sometimes we, the boys, play basketball with Dad'.

The above erroneous sentences were all made by advanced Chinese learners, which indicates that the problem with word order in the use of adverbs is persistent.

The adverb 只 'only' has a similar word order requirement though it is more complicated: it cannot be placed directly before a noun in the way the English 'only' can. Thus, the sentence in (11) is wrong.

- (11) *从三岁到八岁，只我跟母亲住在一起。

Intended meaning: 'From three years old to eight years old, only my mother and I lived together'.

The sentence in (11) cannot be saved by simply moving 只 to a preverbal position because 只 requires that the part it quantifies occur to its right. Therefore, to express the intended meaning of the sentence in (11), 有 'have' must be placed immediately after 只, as shown in the sentence in (12).

- (12) 从三岁到八岁，只有我跟母亲住在一起。

'From three years old to eight years old, only my mother and I lived together'.

In addition to 都, 先, 也 and 只, other adverbs that cause this kind of word order confusion among English-speaking learners of Chinese include 就, 才, and 光. When teaching these adverbs, explicit instruction on word order should be given along with sufficient practice.

Some adverbs have special word order requirements regarding the placement of the parts that are associated with those adverbs, which results in special word order. 只 and 都 are such adverbs. While 只 requires that part it quantifies occur to its right, the nominal phrase quantified by 都 must be placed to its left in a non-interrogative sentence regardless of what syntactic role the nominal phrase plays (Ma 1983a; Dong 2003). When the nominal phrase that is being quantified by 都 is the object of a sentence, which typically occurs in a post-verbal position, it must be shifted to a preverbal position, as shown in the sentences in (13) c and (13) d.

- (13) a. 我喜欢中国电影和美国电影。

'I like Chinese movies and American movies'.

- b. *我都喜欢中国电影和美国电影。

Intended meaning: 'I like both Chinese movies and American movies'.

- c. 中国电影和美国电影我都喜欢。

'I like both Chinese movies and American movies'.

- d. 我中国电影和美国电影都喜欢。

'I like both Chinese movies and American movies'.

In the sentence in (13) a, the NP 中国电影和美国电影 'Chinese movies and American movies' sits in the canonical post-verbal position as the object of the sentence when 都 is not used in the sentence. To quantify this NP using 都 requires that the NP be switched to a preverbal position as seen in both (13) c and (13) d; it cannot stay in its post-verbal position as shown in (13) b.

In teaching, it would reduce errors made by Chinese learners if Chinese instructors could make sure that these special requirements are clearly explained.

Requirements of the Form of Co-Occurring Elements

Some adverbs require that the part they modify occur in a complicated form and cannot occur in a simple form; that is, the VP or AP modified by the adverb must have other elements.

Ma (1991) discusses the differences among the degree adverbs, 很 'very', 挺 'rather', 怪 'very', and 老 'very'. All these adverbs can be used to modify adjective phrases or some verb phrases¹ to indicate a high degree. However, they differ in terms of text genre (spoken vs. written) in which they can be used, the emotional connotations that they carry, and the adjectives that can be used with them (please refer to Ma 1991 for details). One obvious difference among these adverbs, however, lies in the form of the adjective phrases that can be used with them. While neither 很, 挺, nor 老 require that the part modified by it take the form of 'adjective + 的', 怪 does. For example:

- (14) 这个孩子怪可怜的。

'This child is very pitiful'.

In the sentence in (14), 的 cannot be omitted.

太 'too', when used in a positive sentence that has no continuation after the phrase containing it, requires that the adjective modified by it to be used with-了. For example:

- (15) 我最近太忙了。

'I have been too busy recently'

- (16) 我最近太忙(了), 没有时间给你打电话。

'I have been too busy recently, and have not had time to call you'

- (17) 我最近不太忙。

'I have not been too busy recently'

Since the sentence in (15) stands alone at the end of an utterance, -了 has to be used with 太; in the sentence in (16), the clause containing '太+adjective' is followed by another clause, thus -了 can be omitted; the sentence in (17) is a negative sentence, and -了 cannot be used. Therefore, in order to help Chinese learners learn the rules governing the use of 太, Chinese instructors should use examples such as these to be sure the rules are clear.

Another degree adverb, 稍微 'a little' cannot be used to modify a simple adjective. The adjective that is modified by 稍微 requires other elements in a sentence in order to be deployed correctly (Ma 1985). For example:

- (18) 比较起来这个房间稍微干净一点儿。

'Comparatively, this room is a little cleaner'.

- (19) 张永明比赵晓岚稍微强一些。

'Zhang Yongqiang is a little better than Zhao Xiaolan'.

In the sentence in (18), the adjective phrase that is used after 稍微 has a complement 一点儿 'a little'; similarly, in the sentence in (19), the adjective phrase that is used after 稍微 also has a complement 一些 'a little'. In both sentences, 一点儿 and 一些 cannot be omitted in a sentence in which 稍微 is used correctly. However, Chinese learners often omit the required

complements due to interlanguage confusion: to English speakers, these complements seem redundant.

简直 ‘simply’ is an adverb that is introduced to Chinese learners at the advanced level and it has similar requirements regarding the complicated nature of the form of the adjective phrases used after it: that is, a bare adjective cannot be used. For example:

- (20) a. *这简直好。
 ‘This is simply great’
 b. 这简直太好了。
 ‘This is simply great’.
 c. 这简直好极了。
 ‘This is extremely good’.

In the sentence in (20) a, a bare adjective is used making the sentence ungrammatical; 简直 requires the use of other elements as shown in (20) b and (20)c.

The adverbs that are discussed in this section all have special restrictions regarding the form of the elements they can modify. In teaching these adverbs, attention to these forms can help reduce errors that Chinese learners might make.

Underuse of Adverbs

One common mistake that Chinese learners tend to make in using adverbs is a failure to use some adverbs in contexts where adverbs should be used. This is especially true when the use of the adverbs is motivated syntactically in Chinese, and does not have an overt realization in English. Take 都 as an example. A typical context that demands the use of 都 consists of a sentence in which a universal quantifier appears in a preverbal element. Preverbal elements include subjects (21), topics (22), time adverbials (23), place adverbials (24), and nominal phrases contained in a prepositional phrase (25). The universal quantifiers in Chinese include, but are not limited to, 每 ‘every’, 所有的 ‘all’, 全部 ‘whole’, 任何 ‘any’ etc. (Wang 1999; Zhou and Wang 2007). For example:

- (21) 每个孩子都在看书。(Subject)
 ‘Every child is reading’.
- (22) 所有的苹果我都削了皮。(Topic)
 ‘I have peeled all of the apples’.
- (23) 我每天都看电视。(Time adverbial)
 ‘I watch TV every day’.
- (24) 房子里到处都很乱。(Place adverbial)
 ‘It is very messy everywhere in the house’.
- (25) 我跟每个人都谈过话。(Object of a preposition)
 ‘I have talked with everyone’.

In the above sentences, because the subject (21), the topic (22), the time adverbial (23), the place adverbial (24), and the object of a preposition used before a verbal phrase (25) contain

a universal quantificational word such as 每‘every’, 所有的‘all’, 到处‘everywhere’, 都 is obligatory in a pre-predicate position.

In Chinese, interrogative words can be used as universal quantifiers with the support of 都. In such contexts, the appearance of 都 is also obligatory (Cheng 1995; Y.-H. Li 1992; J. Li 1995; Xu 1997). For example:

(26) 谁都喜欢中国菜。

‘Everyone likes Chinese food’.

(27) 我什么都不吃。

‘I do not eat anything’.

Another typical context in which the use of 都 is required is in sentences in which a conjunction word such as 无论‘no matter’, 不论‘in spite of’ or 不管‘regardless’, is used. For example:

(28) 无论天气多么糟糕，他都会去跑步。

‘No matter how bad the weather is, he jogs’.

In the aforementioned cases, the use of 都 is required in the predicate and omission results in ungrammatical sentences. As shown in the English translation of those sentences in (21) through (28), the use of 都 in Chinese does not correspond to anything in their English counterparts. Actually, in those equivalent English sentences, *all* before the predicate should not be used. Omitting 都 in similar Chinese sentences is very common even among advanced Chinese learners (Li 2009, 2011b, 2012). Therefore, in teaching, Chinese instructors should explicitly make the rules clear to the students when teaching 都. Meanwhile, when introducing or practicing universal quantification phrases, Chinese instructors should bring their co-occurrence with 都 to students’ attention.

Misuse and Overuse of Adverbs

The misuse and overuse of adverbs are mainly caused by an inaccurate understanding of the grammatical meanings that adverbs express, or the semantic and discourse requirements of some adverbs in the context in which they are used.

Some adverbs can occur in the same linguistic environment but express different meanings that are abstract and subtle. Chinese learners are often confused in the use of these adverbs. The confusion around the two negation markers in Chinese, 不 and 没(有), is a good example. It has been reported that L2 Chinese learners at different levels tend to confuse 不 with 没(有) and often make errors using the two negation markers. While Chinese learners do not over-generalize the use of 没(有), they do over-generalize the use of 不, placing it in contexts where 没(有) should be used. (cf. J. Wang 1997; B. Wang 2001; Li 2004). Although 不 and 没(有) have complementary distribution in some cases, they can both be used to negate activity verbs. For example :

(29) 我没(有)吃早饭。

‘I have not eaten breakfast/I did not eat breakfast’.

(30) 我不吃早饭。

‘I do not eat breakfast./I do not want to eat breakfast’.

The sentence in (29) forms a minimal pair with the sentence in (30) in that the only difference on the surface is that 不 is used in (30) while 没(有) is used in (29). The sentence in (29) conveys a single episodic interpretation that reads 'I have not eaten breakfast/I did not eat breakfast'. However, the sentence in (30) has two readings: a habitual reading that states, 'I (usually) do not eat breakfast', and a negation of volition reading that states, 'I do not want to eat breakfast'. (cf. Ma 2004; Li and Thompson 1981). When used with activity verbs without any overt aspectual markers, 没(有) functions as the negation of the perfective aspect (cf. Wang 1965), and thus gives rise to a single episodic reading; 不, on the other hand, functions as the negation for the habitual aspect, hence the habitual reading. If the core meaning of both 不 and 没(有) is negation, then the habitual meaning or the episodic meaning that 不 and 没(有) express respectively are the aspectual readings of these two negation markers. Although these meanings are abstract, they can be illustrated by minimal pairs and in contexts where they occur. The aspectual differences between (29) and (30) can be seen clearly in their positive counterparts, as shown in (31) and (32) respectively.

(31) 他吃了早饭。

'He ate breakfast'.

(32) 他吃早饭。

'He eats breakfast'.

In the sentence in (31), -了 appears after the verb 吃 giving the sentence the meaning that the action of *his eating breakfast* is viewed as a whole; that is, it gives the sentence a perfective interpretation. The bare verb 吃 without any overt aspectual marker is used in the sentence in (32) giving it the habitual reading 'he usually eats breakfast'.

Guided and focused practice using negative forms along with their positive forms can help students grasp the nuanced aspectual difference between the two negative markers. The inherent relationship between the negative markers and their corresponding positive forms should be emphasized to help English-speaking L2 Chinese learners acquire the different aspectual meanings of these two negation markers and their different distribution more effectively. To effect this, sentences using 没(有) V should be practiced in combination with sentences using V-了, and sentences using 不 V should be paired with sentences using V. The potential success of this approach is supported by the test results shown in Li (2011a). This is doubly important because, although sentences using 不 and 没(有) with activity verbs have the same syntactic form on the surface, their corresponding positive forms are different. The obvious aspectual difference between the two types of positive forms of the verb actually provides helpful cues that alert Chinese learners vividly to the fact that these two negation markers are quite different by zeroing in on the distinct aspectual meanings that 不 and 没(有) actually convey. Comparatively, it is much more difficult for learners to realize the difference between the two types of negations when their drill focuses solely on the negative forms. Therefore, in addition to providing context, practicing positive form juxtaposition can give Chinese learners invaluable insight into the aspectual differences between the negative markers and thus increase their success in using 不 and 没(有) in the proper situations. Moreover, running the positive forms together with their corresponding negative forms can add variety to a lesson by providing yet another type of practice drill. And finally, since the fundamental aspectual features of positive forms are the same as the negative forms in this case, practicing positive forms is actually another way of practicing negative forms and thus further facilitates the acquisition of the negative markers.

Another factor leading to the misuse of adverbs is that the use of some adverbs requires special semantic backgrounds, the overlooking of which may only result in erroneous sentences (Ma 1983b, 2001; Peng 1999). Ma (2001) discussed the semantic backgrounds for using 并 and 又, both of which are typically taught to be used before negative words to intensify the negative tone of the sentence. However, this explanation cannot explain why the sentences in (33) b and (34) b are wrong.

(33) A: 你再吃一点儿。

‘Please eat more’.

B: *我并不能再吃了。

Intended reading: ‘I really cannot eat more’.

(34) A: 老王卖房子的事你也知道了?

‘You also know that old Wang is selling his house?’

B: *我又不知道。

‘I didn’t know it’.

In the sentences in (33) b and (34) b, 并 and 又 were used to ‘intensify the negative tone of the sentence’, but both sound incorrect to Chinese native speakers. This is because the semantic backgrounds of the use of these two adverbs were not present in the contexts. According to Ma (2001), 并 is only used when speakers want to argue against certain presumptions that are reflected in the context in order to emphasize the fact or real situation. In the conversation in (33), there is no assumption presumed or deferred from the context by the speaker, therefore 并 should not be used. As for 又, it is used when speakers intend to negate certain things, certain practices, certain statements or certain ideas indirectly, negating them, instead, by emphasizing the nonexistence of the thing, that practice, the premise or the cause of the statement or idea. For example:

(35) 玉萍: 你带上一把伞吧。

‘Yuping: Please bring an umbrella’.

俊峰: 天气预报又没说今天要下雨。

‘Junfeng: The weather forecast didn’t say it would rain today’.

In the conversation between Yuping and Junfeng in (35), Yuping suggests that Junfeng bring an umbrella with him to which Junfeng is opposed. However, instead of directly stating that he will not bring an umbrella, he negates the possibility of its raining by reporting that ‘the weather forecast didn’t say it would rain today’. This is the proper and perfect context in which 又 should be used. In the sentence in (34), the presumption is that *you know of this matter*, therefore, 并 can be used. But, in this sentence, the speaker is not negating the existence of any argument precondition to argue, therefore, 又 cannot be used.

Some adverbs require a special discourse background and this makes the use of them extremely challenging. A good example of this type of adverb is 反而, which is usually translated into English as ‘instead, contrary to expectations, on the contrary’. However, Chinese students rarely use this adverb correctly. For example:

(35) *他以为我不爱吃苦瓜。我反而很爱吃苦瓜。

Intended meaning: ‘He thinks I don’t like eating bitter melon but, on the contrary, I like eating bitter melon a lot’.

(36) *大家都说要去香山玩儿，圭子反而要去颐和园。

Intended meaning: 'Everyone wants to go to Xiangshan to play. Guizi, on the contrary, wants to go to the Summer Palace'.

Ma (1983b) points out that the use of 反而 requires that the discourse in which it is used include the following elements:

- (37) A. The phenomenon or situation (A) has occurred;
 B. Normally, the occurrence of the phenomenon or the situation (A) would cause the occurrence of B;
 C. In reality, B did not occur.
 D. The real occurrence is D which is a situation opposite to B.

If all of the four elements are explicitly or inexplicitly present in the context, 反而 can be used. Ma (1983b) gives an example to illustrate the use of 反而:

- (38) A. 今天午后下了一场雷阵雨,
 'There was a thunderstorm in the afternoon',
 B. 原以为可以凉快一些, 可是
 'I thought it would be cooler, but'
 C. 并没有凉下来
 'It did not cool down',
 D. 反而更闷热了。
 'Instead, it was even hotter'.

Theoretically the complete pattern for the use of 反而 would be: A+B 可是C+反而D. Other conjunctions such as 不但 'not only' or 不仅 'not only' can also be used in place of 可是 before C. In real-life communication, following the economic principles, B or C is often omitted, and sometimes even both B and C can be omitted. Therefore a variety of the patterns using 反而 are derived as shown in (39).

- (39) a. A+B 可是C+反而D
 b. A+ 可是 (不但) C+ 反而 D
 c. A+B+可是+ 反而 D
 d. A+反而 D

Even if B or C or both B and C are omitted, their meanings should be implied in the context. This can explain why the use of 反而 in sentences in (35) and (36) is incorrect. In teaching, Chinese instructors should introduce the complete pattern in (39)a, which can help Chinese learners to construct proper contexts for 反而 and understand the four essential semantic elements in its use. Based on the pattern in (39)a, other patterns can be practiced to ensure that Chinese learners produce sentences with 反而 naturally. Practice embedded in context and discourse should be consistently incorporated. The other adverb that has similar semantic requirements for contexts to use it is 倒.

Conclusion

Adverbs vary greatly in their syntactic properties and semantic features. The instruction of adverbs needs to be done on a case-by-case basis. Various factors dictate the proper use of

adverbs. It is very important for Chinese language instructors to be fully aware of the syntactic properties and semantic features of adverbs, and it is equally important to know that adverb instruction cannot be accomplished in one session or at one level only, but must be done over time and emphasized and attended to at all levels. Explicit instructions are vital in helping Chinese learners grasp the finer details and master the proper usage of adverbs as are comprehensive production activities. Instructors should avoid lengthy syntactic explanations of the differences between different adverbs, and, rather, direct students' attention to the different distributions and semantic requirements. At the beginning level, introducing the use of the adverbs one at a time is recommended. At the intermediate and advanced levels, a summary of the different uses of adverbs should be provided accompanied by opportunities for comprehensive practice within communication contexts can help learners acquire a holistic view of the uses of adverbs. In addition, a variety of production drills—both with lexical and syntactic scaffolding and without—should be included as an integral part of lessons on adverbs at all levels.

Note

- 1 Verb phrases that can be modified by these degree adverbs are limited to those verbs that describe psychological state, for example, 喜欢 'like', 想 'think'.

References

English References

- Cheng, Lisa L.-S. (1995) 'On Dou-quantification'. *Journal of East Asian Linguistics* 4: 197–234.
- Li, C. and Thompson, S. (1981) *Mandarin Chinese: A Functional Reference Grammar*. Berkeley, Los Angeles and London: University of California Press.
- Li, J. (1995) 'Dou and wh-questions in Mandarin Chinese'. *Journal of East Asian Linguistics* 4: 313–323.
- Li, Y. (2011a) 'Acquisition of the aspectual meanings of the negation markers in Mandarin Chinese by English-speaking L2 Chinese learners'. *Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association* 46(1): 1–29.
- Li, Y. (2012) 'What English-speaking learners of Chinese don't know about dou: A study on the acquisition of dou'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 47(3): 115–149.
- Li, Y.-H. Audrey. (1992) 'DOU: Syntax or LF?'. Paper presented at the Forth North America Conference on Chinese Linguistics (NACCL-4), University of Michigan, Ann Arbor.
- Ross, C. (2004) *Schaum's Outline of Chinese Grammar: Schaum's Outline Series*. New York: McGraw Hill.
- Wang, B. (2001) *The Early Stages of Chinese Interlanguage: A Longitudinal Study of the Acquisition of Chinese as a Second Language by Three Native English Speakers*. PhD dissertation, University of California, Los Angeles.
- Wang, W. S.-Y. (1965) 'Two aspect markers in Mandarin'. *Language* 41: 457–470.
- Xu, D. (1997) *Functional Categories in Mandarin Chinese*. Netherlands: Holland Institute of Generative Linguistics.

Chinese References

- Dong, Xiu-Fang 董秀芳 (2003) '都'与其他成分的语序及相关问题' (The position of 'Dou' and some related issues). *世界汉语教学* (Chinese Teaching in the World) 1: 40–47.
- He, Yi-Wei 何一薇 (2003) '时间名词、时间副词之偏误分析' (An error analysis of nouns and adverbs of time). *温州师范学院学报* (哲学社会科学版) (Journal of Wenzhou Teachers College) 1: 67–72.
- Hu, Ying 胡英 (2003) '第二语言学习者使用虚词的偏误分析' (An analysis of the deviations and errors of the function words used by the second language learners). *语言与翻译* (Language and Translation) 1: 65–67.

- Huang, Lu-Yang 黄露阳 (2009) ‘外国留学生多义副词‘就’的习得考察’ (A study on the foreign learners’ acquisition of polysemous adverb ‘Jiu’). 语言教学与研究 (Language Teaching and Linguistic Studies) 2: 54–60.
- Li, Da-Zhong 李大忠 (1995) ‘语法偏误分析二题’ (Two cases on grammatical error analysis). 中国人民大学学报 (Journal of Renmin University of China) 4: 103–105.
- Li, Xiao-Qi 李晓琪 (2002) ‘母语为英语者习得‘再’、‘又’的考察’ (An investigation of the acquisition of Chinese Zài and Yòu by English-speaking learners of Chinese). 世界汉语教学 (Chinese Teaching in the World) 2: 73–78.
- Li, Yan 李艳 (2009) ‘中文的词汇习得与英文的母语负迁移影响’ (Chinese vocabulary acquisition and the impact of negative transfer of English). 对外汉语教学与研究 (Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language) 1: 185–192.
- Li, Yan 李艳 (2011b) ‘都’和‘all (both)’的比较以及‘都’的教学问题’ (Comparison between *dou* and *all (both)* and related pedagogical issues). 对外汉语教学与研究 (Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language) 1: 10–16.
- Li, Ying 李英 (2004) ‘不/没+V’的习得情况考察’ (Analysis of the acquisition of ‘bu/mei + V’). 汉语学习 Chinese Language Learning 5: 72–78.
- Liu, Ai-Qun 刘爱群 (2009) ‘对日本大学汉语学习者汉语副词‘都’的习得情况的考察’ (Investigation into the acquisition of *dou* by Chinese learners at Japanese universities). 多维视野下的对外汉语教学研究—第七届国际汉语教学学术研讨会论文集 (Research on Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language from Multiple Perspectives: The Proceedings of the 7th International Conference on Chinese Language Pedagogy), 133–137. Guilin, China: Guangxi Normal University Press.
- Liu, Jia 刘佳 (2009) ‘多功能副词‘才’的习得顺序及教学研究’ (Study on the acquisition order and teaching of the multi-functional adverb *cai*). 上海: 复旦大学 (Shanghai: Fudan University).
- Lu, Jian-Ming and Ma, Zhen 陆俭明, 马真 (1985) ‘虚词研究浅论’ (A brief discussion on the research on function words). 现代汉语虚词散论 (Research on Modern Chinese Function Words), 北京大学出版社.
- Ma, Zhen 马真 (1983a) ‘关于‘都/全’所总括的对象的位置’ (On the position of the NP quantified by *dou* or *quan*). 汉语学习 (Chinese Language Learning) 1: 27–34.
- Ma, Zhen 马真 (1983b) ‘说‘反而’’ (On *fan’er*). 中国语文 (Study of the Chinese Language) 3: 172–176.
- Ma, Zhen 马真 (1985) ‘稍微’和‘多少’ (On *Shaowei* and *Duoshao*). 语言教学与研究 (Language Teaching and Linguistic Studies) 3: 30–33.
- Ma, Zhen 马真 (1991) ‘普通话里的程度副词‘很、挺、怪、老’ (The degree adverbs *hen, ting, guai* and *lao* in Mandarin Chinese). 汉语学习 (Chinese Language Learning) 2: 8–13.
- Ma, Zhen 马真 (2001) ‘表加强否定语气的副词‘并’和‘又’—兼谈词语使用的语义背景’ (The adverbs *bing* and *you* emphasizing negation: Examples showing the semantic background of word usage). 世界汉语教学 (Chinese Teaching in the World) 3: 12–18.
- Ma, Zhen 马真 (2004) 现代汉语虚词研究方法论 (The Methodology of Studying Function Words in Modern Chinese). 北京: 商务印书馆 (Beijing: Shangwu)
- Peng, Xiao-Chuan 彭小川 (1999) ‘论副词‘倒’的语篇功能—兼论对外汉语语篇教学’ (On the contextual function of the Chinese adverb). 北京大学学报: 哲学社会科学版 (Journal of Peking University: Humanities and Social Sciences) 5: 132–137.
- Wang, Hong 王红 (1999) ‘副词‘都’的语法意义试析’ (Analysis of the senses of the adverb *dou*). 汉语学习 (Chinese Language Learning) 6: 55–60.
- Wang, Jian-Qin 王建勤 (1997) ‘不’和‘没’否定结构的习得过程’ (The acquisition process of *bu* and *mei*). 第五届国际汉语教学讨论会论文选 (Proceedings of the 5th International Conference on Chinese Language Pedagogy) 178–192.
- Xiao, Xi-Qiang 肖奚强 (2003) ‘范围副词的再分类及其句法语义分析’ (Re-division of scope adverbs and analysis of syntax and semantics), 安徽师范大学学报: 人文社会科学版 (Journal of Anhui Normal University: Philosophy and Social Sciences) 3: 355–359.
- Xie, Yan-Qin 解燕勤 (2005) ‘留学生学习汉语副词‘都’的偏误分析及思考’ (Reflection and error analysis of the Chinese adverbial word *dou* in SLA for foreigners). 昆明师范高等专科学校学报 (Journal of Kunming Teachers College) 1: 68–69, 75.

- Ye, Xiang 叶翔 (2001)留学生汉语常用副词偏误分析 (Analysis of common adverb errors of foreign students). 苏州:苏州大学 (Suzhou University), Master thesis.
- Zhou, Xiao-Bing and Wang, Yu 周小兵, 王宇 (2007) ‘与范围副词‘都’有关的偏误分析’ (An analysis of the grammatical errors concerning *dou* as an adverb of scope). 汉语学习 (Chinese Language Learning) 1: 71–76.
- Zhu, De-Xi 朱德熙 (1981) 语法讲义 (Grammatical Lecture). 北京: 商务印书馆 (Beijing: Shangwu).

From Cognitive Linguistics to Pedagogical Grammar

On Teaching the Chinese Sentence-Final *le*

Liancheng Chief

Introduction

This chapter outlines an approach to explicit grammar instruction on the Chinese sentence-final *le* (了) in the context of cognitive linguistics. Cognitive linguistics-oriented language teaching has been proved to be effective in second language acquisition (Robinson and Ellis 2008; Tyler 2012). Applying cognitive linguistics to Chinese pedagogical grammar is a recent approach. For example, Chief (2011) discusses the application of FIGURE and GROUND (Talmy 2000) in teaching the Mandarin Converb Construction; Chu (2011) examines the saliency mapping of FIGURE and GROUND and its application on motion expression; and Hsiao (2017) talks about the metaphor theory and image schema and the applications in Chinese language pedagogy. This chapter discusses prototype effects as an addition in the direction of applying cognitive linguistics to Chinese pedagogical grammar. It demonstrates how the various sentence patterns of sentence-final *le* (hereafter, sentential *le*) form a family of PERFECT constructions and show prototype effects, and proposes that the notions of current relevance and prior opposite state should be incorporated and emphasized in pedagogical grammars.¹ Finally, this chapter showcases how to transform the linguistics descriptions into learner-friendly grammar instructions and suggests that the sequence of teaching sentential *le* constructions should be motivated by prototype effects. That is, the most prototypical sentential *le* constructions should be introduced first and then the peripheral ones.

The Mandarin Sentential *le*

The main discourse function of sentential *le* is to indicate the currently relevant state as pointed out in Li et al.'s seminal work (Li et al. 1982). As stated in Li et al. (1982), '*le* claims that *a state of affairs has special current relevance to some particular Reference Time*'. Syntactically, sentential *le* occurs at the end of a sentence. This *le* should not be confused with the other *le* that occurs immediately after a verb.² The former is PERFECT (Li et al. 1982), and the latter is PERFECTIVE

(Smith 1997; Klein, Li and Hendriks 2000).³ The examples of PERFECT and PERFECTIVE in Chinese are given in (1) and (2) respectively.

(1) 他去圖書館看書了。(PERFECT)
'He has gone to the library to read'.

(2) 我喝了一杯咖啡。(PERFECTIVE)
'I drank a cup of coffee'.

PERFECT is a common grammar category across languages (Anderson 1982; Ritz 2012). The English PERFECT will be used here as a brief illustration of the category. In terms of English pedagogical grammar, the PRESENT PERFECT describes an event or an action which takes place in the past but continues to the present as in (3) or the result or consequence is extended to the present as in (4).

- (3) He has lived in Los Angeles for 10 years.
[Possible Currently Relevant States]⁴
- a. *He knows Los Angeles very well.*
 - b. *He knows that Los Angeles has the worst traffic congestion in the world.*
- (4) She has watched the movie three times.
- a. *She really likes the movie.*
 - b. *She does not want to watch the movie one more time.*

As is well known (e.g. Anderson 1982; Li, Thompson and Thompson 1982; Dahl and Hedin 2000; and Lindstedt 2000), the PERFECT construction, cross-linguistically, conveys current relevance. For example, in (4), having read the book three times is a past situation, but this past situation is relevant to the current conversation because the speaker wants the hearer to infer a conversational implicature such as (4a) or (4b) from the context.

PERFECTIVE, on the other hand, presents a complete situation as a whole (Smith 1997). In (2), the initial endpoint and the final endpoint of the drinking a cup of coffee event is presented as a whole as its internal time span is not visible. Unlike PERFECTIVE, the viewpoint of IMPERFECTIVE such as (5) focuses on the internal time span of the event, the drinking process, and the final endpoint is excluded.

(5) He is drinking a cup of coffee.

Either the PERFECTIVE or IMPERFECTIVE aspect can occur in the Chinese PERFECT construction. For example, in (7) the first *le* which occurs after the main verb, *xiě* (寫) 'to write', is PERFECTIVE; and in (8) the IMPERFECTIVE marker *zài* (在) is present in the Chinese PERFECT construction.

In (7), the English PRESENT PERFECT is used to show current relevance which performs the function like the use of sentential *le*. In contrast, the choice of past tense over PRESENT PERFECT in the English translation in (6) demonstrates why sentential *le* is not used as both the PERFECTIVE aspect in Chinese and the past tense in English does not signal current relevance.

(6) 他寫了十封信。(PERFECTIVE)
'He wrote 10 letters' (PAST TENSE).

- (7) 他寫了十封信了。(PERFECTIVE + PERFECT)
 'He has written 10 letters' (PRESENT PERFECT).
- (8) 他在寫信了。(IMPERFECTIVE + PERFECT)
 'He has been writing the letter' (PRESENT PERFECT PROGRESSIVE).

The contrast between the PERFECTIVE in (6) and the PERFECT in (7), is similar to the difference between the English past tense and PRESENT PERFECT. English lacks the grammatical PERFECTIVE category, although its interpretation can be implied by the past tense (cf. Bohnemeyer 2004). Chinese does not morphologically mark past tense, but past tense reading can be implied by PERFECTIVE. This might be one of the reasons that it is hard for English speakers to learn the PERFECTIVE *le* in Mandarin, and difficult for Chinese speakers to master the use of the past tense in English.

This chapter only focuses on sentential *le* which performs the functions of PERFECT. It will not discuss the reasons why the PERFECT *le* and the PERFECTIVE *le* should be distinguished as the differences have been extensively discussed elsewhere. Interested readers are referred to Smith (1997) and Soh (2009). In addition, Teng (2009) also suggested that sentential *le* should be introduced before verb *le* in pedagogical grammar. Therefore, not only are these two *les* classified differently in the field of linguistics nowadays, they should be distinguished in pedagogical grammars and language education as well.

Sentential le and Currently Relevant State

Li, Thompson and Thompson (1982) points out that sentential *le* exhibits properties of PERFECT and its discourse function is to convey the currently relevant state. It also has been pointed out that the most prototypical meaning of PERFECT is current relevance (Lindstedt 2000). Basically, currently relevant state means that a state introduced by a prior eventuality is relevant to the present, or the reference time. As stated in Dahl and Hedin (2000), current relevance is 'a condition on the discourse, in that the speaker portrays the consequences of an event as somehow essential to the point of what he is saying'.

Traditionally, pedagogical grammars tend to explain that sentential *le* describes a change of state as exemplified in (9).

- (9) 她喜歡吃壽司了。
 'She likes eating sushi now'.
 a. *We can go to Japanese restaurants together now.*
 b. *She will spend more money on food.*

However, what is more important is (i) what the new state is and (ii) how the new state is relevant to current conversation. For example, since the subject in (9) likes sushi now, the listener and her friends can go to a sushi restaurant together now as suggested in (9a), which is the new state. Therefore, the new state is relevant for the participants of the discourse situation. In addition, the state is not a fixed one but is inferred from context to context. For instance, (9b) is another possible currently relevant state.

Without a sentential *le*, (10) describes a general state. In other words, the subject generally or always likes sushi.

- (10) 她喜歡吃壽司。
 'She likes eating sushi'.

By adding a sentential *le*, the sentence illustrates a change of state which presupposes a prior opposite state. Specifically, the subject used to dislike sushi but likes it now. If the currently relevant state such as (9a) or (9b) is not important in the discourse, then a speaker chooses (10) over (9).

As pointed out in Nishiyama and Koenig (2010), PERFECT is a stativizer.⁵ That is, whether the input eventuality of a PERFECT is an event or a state, the output of the sentence is always a state.⁶ Specifically, when the main verb is not a state such as (11), a sentence with sentential *le* is still a state. (11) is an example of resultative PERFECT which indicates that a result state created by a prior event is still in effect.

(11) 她今天早上去洛杉磯了。

‘She has gone to Los Angeles this morning’.

a. *She is not here.*

b. *She cannot meet with you here.*

The state in (11) is not ‘her going to Los Angeles’ itself. Instead, the state is introduced by the prior event of ‘her going to Los Angeles’. The states should be inferred from the context. It might be the state that ‘she is not here’ as suggested in (11a). The use of the sentential *le* in (11) introduces a currently relevant state. In contrast, without a sentential *le*, (12) does not introduce a state. It could be a sentence in a narrative without invoking current relevance.

(12) 她今天早上去洛杉磯。

‘She went to Los Angeles this morning’.

Importantly, (11) but not (12) introduces a state or creates a temporal trace that extends to the speech time. In addition, (11) is a state and (12) is an event. Consider the following sentences expanded on (11) and (12).

(13) 她今天早上去洛杉磯，現在回來了。

‘She went to Los Angeles this morning. She is back now’.

(14) *她今天早上去洛杉磯了，現在回來了。

‘She has gone to Los Angeles this morning (intended translation: she is not present), and has returned (intended translation: she is present)’.

The contrast between (13) and (14) is evidence that the sentential *le* introduces a state that holds at the speech time. (14) doesn’t make sense, because the use of the first sentential *le* at the end of the first clause indicates that she is not here at the moment but the second clause says that she is here at the moment, which causes a semantic conflict. In (13), there is no sentential *le* in the first clause; therefore, no currently relevant state is introduced. There is no temporal trace of any state that overlaps with the reference time in the second clause in (13). This is what current state means in the concept of currently relevant state. Change of state alone does not explain why (11) is a state given the base sentence is an event.

To elaborate more on the concept of ‘relevance’, consider (15) which is an expanded example based on (11).

(15) 她今天早上去洛杉磯了，不能跟你見面了。

‘She has gone to Los Angeles this morning. She cannot meet with you’.

(15) introduces a currently relevant state indicating the subject is not present at the time. Therefore, the subject cannot meet with the hearer. The state is created by the prior event. It is in this sense that sentential *le* shows the state is relevant.

The basic notion of ‘current’ in currently relevant state is that a situation is in effect at the present in conversations. (16) is a typical example of a continuative PERFECT which describes a persistent state that still holds at the speech time.

(16) 他在洛杉磯住了十年了。⁷

‘He has lived in Los Angeles for 10 years’.

- a. *You do not need to tell him that I-405 is the busiest freeway in the United States.*
- b. *He can show you the scenes in the movie ‘La La Land’.*

The subject has lived in Los Angeles for 10 years, and he still lives there. The state of living in Los Angeles is still ongoing. Therefore, the state is current. In contrast, the default interpretation in (17) is that the subject no longer lived in Los Angeles. In other words, his living in Los Angeles is not current.

(17) 他在洛杉磯住了十年。

‘He lived in Los Angeles for 10 years’.

As shown by the contrast between (16) and (17), a sentence marked by sentential *le* is more current to the situation than the counterpart without sentential *le*.

(18) is an example of the existential and experiential PERFECT construction.⁸ The consequence of an event occurrence is still in effect at the reference time. The currently relevant state is not ‘watching the movie three times’, but states such as ‘I know the movie very well’ or ‘I am tired of the movie’.

(18) 這部電影我看了三次了。

‘I have watched this movie three times’.

- a. *I am a fan of this movie.*
- b. *I do not want to watch this movie for the fourth time.*

The state of knowing the movie very well signals the relevance because the speaker wants the hearer to know that she can talk about the movie (18a) or she does not want to watch the movie for the fourth time (18b). Again, these possible relevant states are introduced by the prior event of watching the movie three times.

In brief, the discourse and semantic function that sentential *le* performs is to introduce a state that is relevant to the speech time or the reference time. Both a prior time and a current time are involved. However, only the former, but not the latter, is emphasized in textbooks or pedagogical grammars.

The Traditional Approach in Textbooks and Pedagogical Grammars

As is well-known, the acquisition of either sentential *le* or verb *le* is a difficult task for students of Chinese. There might be several reasons. First, most popular textbooks mix them together; for example, *Integrated Chinese* (Liu et al. 2017a, 2017b), and *Chinese Link* (Wu et al. 2007), to name just a few. Second, there is too much emphasis on the notion of ‘completion’ and ‘realization’ when explaining the PERFECT sentential *le* while they should be the explanation for the

PERFECTIVE verb *le*. It is confusing for students whether these notions are used to account for the uses of sentential *le* (PERFECT) or verb *le* (PERFECTIVE) when they are not distinguished. For example, both sentential *le* and verb *le* are first introduced in Lesson 5 in *Integrated Chinese* (Liu et al. 2017a). Both of them are treated as the same marker. Their first explanation of the sentential *le* is ‘occurrence or completion of an event, in the past’, exemplified by (19) (Liu et al. 2017a: 141). The translations and explanation are theirs.

(19) a. Q: 昨天晚上你去打球了嗎?

‘Did you play ball last night?’

b. A: 昨天晚上我去打球了。

‘I went to play ball last night’.

(OCCURRENCE OR COMPLETION OF AN EVENT,
IN THE PAST) (Liu et al. 2017a)

The problem with the explanation quoted in (19b) is that other events which also describe ‘occurrence or completion of an event, in the past’ do not necessarily require the appearance of a sentential *le*. For example, (20), a constructed counterpart example of (19b), also describes a past event and it is totally grammatical without a sentential *le*. The traditional approach in the textbooks cannot explain why speakers choose (19b) over (20) where sentential *le* is not used.

(20) 昨天晚上我去打球。

‘I went to play ball last night’.

Importantly, the explanation of ‘occurrence or completion of an event, in the past’ is not enough and incomplete, and possibly misleading. It is not sufficient for the use of sentential *le*. The sentential *le* is used in (19) not only because the event happened in the past, but, most importantly, because the past event has current relevance to the discourse. In this case, it is an answer to the question in (19a) in the conversation. (20) could be just a sentence in a narrative without invoking current relevance. Therefore, what distinguishes (19b) from (20) is the notion of currently relevant state, but not ‘completion, occurrence, or past’ as both of them describe completed events which occur in the past. Without this notion, the distinction between (19b) and (20) cannot be properly explained.

A similar approach to sentential *le* is found in *Chinese Link* (Wu et al. 2007). Not only are sentential *le* and verb *le* treated as the same marker, it also states that ‘*le* is placed after a verb *or at the end of a sentence to indicate the completion of an action* [italics mine]’, and ‘is also used at the end of a sentence to express a situation that has changed’. The former is exemplified in (21) and the latter (22), even though both are sentential *le*.

(21) 你看醫生了嗎? (Wu et al. 2007: 318)

‘Did you go to see a doctor?’

(22) 你會開車了嗎? (Wu et al. 2007: 319)

‘Do you know how to drive?’

As demonstrated by the two examples from the textbooks above, the current teaching mainly focuses more on the notions of ‘completion, realization, and change’, but the most important characteristics of sentential *le*, namely, currently relevant state, is not mentioned at all. However, if a completed or realized event has no relevance to reference time, then sentential *le* is likely

not used. In short, textbooks and pedagogical grammars fail to explain what the new state can be when they say that *le* describes a change of state or changing into a new situation, and what the functions of the new state play in the discourse. The interpretation of the possible relevant states is crucial to the understanding of the use of sentential *le* and should be incorporated into the teaching of sentential *le* in Chinese.

Since sentential *le* performs the functions of PERFECT constructions, it should be treated as a PERFECT marker in Chinese pedagogical grammar, like pedagogical grammars in other languages. For example, PERFECT is a common term used in pedagogical grammars in English (Azar 2016), German (Donaldson 2006; Swick 2018), Spanish (Schmitt 2013; Nissenberg 2016), and French (L'Huillier 1999; Mazet 2017). Some (e.g. Teng 2009) worry that the term PERFECT might be confused with the other term PERFECTIVE, which is marked by verb *le*.⁹ Again, PERFECTIVE is also used in pedagogical grammars in other languages too; for example, Russian (Wade 2010; Murray and Smyth 2013) and French (L'Huillier 1999). Two different terms might just make the students aware that the PERFECT sentential *le* and the PERFECTIVE verb *le* are not the same.

Chinese PERFECT constructions are not exactly the same as PERFECT constructions in other languages such as English, for instance. However, no two categories are exactly the same across languages. Similarly, although the English PERFECT does not behave exactly the same as that in German, the term is still used. As long as they perform the function of currently relevant state, they are PERFECT constructions (Li, Thompson and Thompson 1982; Anderson 1982; Lindstedt 2000; Dahl and Hedin 2000). As stated by Anderson (1982), '[a] grammar category, such as the 'PERFECT', will not have exactly the same range of uses in one language as it does in another'. Since the PERFECT constructions have similar properties across languages, it is thus a useful notion that students can rely on and use it as a background knowledge to understand the uses of sentential *le*.

A Cognitive Linguistics Approach

Since Rosch's study on categorization (Rosch 1978), prototype theory has been playing an important role in cognitive linguistics (Lakoff 1987). Prototype theory provides a sharply different view in contrast to the so-called 'classical' theory (Taylor 2008). In the classical theory, a category is defined by a set of necessary and sufficient conditions and the boundary of a category is always clear-cut. Since a category is well-defined, the members within a category exhibit the same properties. In contrast, in prototype theory, some members in a category are more central or representative than other members. As is well known in cognitive linguistics, in the category of 'bird', a robin is more central or representative than a penguin. The same phenomenon can also be found in the case of sentential *le* constructions. For example, all the sentences with a sentential *le* discussed so far are better exemplars than (23), in which the predicate of the base sentence is a noun.

- (23) 他六十四歲了。
'He is sixty-four years old already'.

In prototype theory, not all members in a category need to possess the same attributes. For example, while flying is one of the attributes of a bird, not every kind of birds can fly. Similarly, when discussing the notion of change of state, examples of a sentence whose base verb is a stative verb, like (9), is more representative than a sentence whose base verb is an event verb, like (11), as both the input and the output of sentential *le* are states in (9) but the input of (11) is an

event. In addition, the boundary of a category is not always clear-cut such as the fuzzy boundary between the categories of ‘cup’ and ‘bowl’ as discussed in Labov (1973). The distinction between past tense and PRESENT PERFECT in English is not always clear among native speakers, so is the use of sentential *le* in Chinese. Consider (19b) and (20) again, the more relevant and current the state, the more likely a sentential *le* is used, and vice versa. The indecisive use of sentential *le* among native speakers conforms to the argument in Dahl and Hedin (2000) that current relevance should be treated as a graded notion.

This chapter proposes that sentential *le* construction has the prototypical meaning representation as shown in Figure 19.1. It presupposes a prior opposite state (cf. Soh 2009) and introduces a current relevant state. The two opposite states define the idea of ‘change of state’.

Sentential *le* usually co-occurs with certain words and thus form some regular patterns such as ‘SENTENCE *le*’, ‘NEGATION. . . *le*’, ‘*yǐjīng* (已經) . . . *le*’, ‘Double *les*’, ‘TIME *le*’, ‘SENTENCE *le ma* (了嗎)?’, and so on. These patterns form a family of the PERFECT constructions and show prototype effects. Not every part of the meaning representation shown in Figure 19.1 is equally salient across different sentential *le* constructions. In ‘NEGATION. . . *le*’ construction, prior opposite state is more salient, and in ‘DURATION *le*’ construction, the reading of continuation is more salient. Table 19.1 demonstrates that different sentential *le* constructions profile different components of the concept associated with currently relevant state.

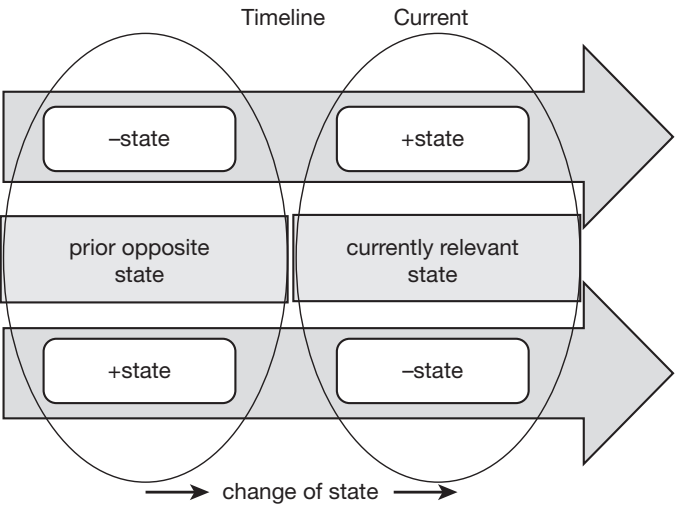


Figure 19.1 Representation of the prototypical meaning of sentential *le*

Table 19.1 Sentential *le* Constructions

Sentential <i>le</i> Constructions	Salient Attribute
SENTENCE <i>le</i> .	Change of state
NEGATION. . . <i>le</i> .	Prior opposite state
<i>Yǐjīng</i> (已經) . . . <i>le</i> .	Contrary to expectation
Double <i>les</i> .	Continuation
SENTENCE <i>le ma</i> (了嗎)?	Topic negotiation

The ‘best example’ within a category is the prototype. The aforementioned example (9) can serve as the most prototypical sentential *le* that conveys currently relevant state. In other words, ‘SENTENCE *le*’ construction that contains a state verb is the most prototypical sentential *le* construction because both the input and output of the construction are states; that is, the sentence contains a state verb and the whole sentence ended with *le* conveys currently relevant state. The meaning of change of state is most salient in this type of sentential *le* construction. Since it is the prototype, this construction should be the first one to be taught in terms of pedagogical grammar.

The ‘NEGATION...*le*’ construction is the most prototypical example that can be used to illustrate the concept of prior opposite state. Three subtypes of this construction, namely, ‘*bù* (不)...*le*’, ‘*méi* (沒)...*le*’, and ‘*bié* (別)...*le*’ will be discussed. The first one to be discussed is the ‘*bù*...*le*’ construction.

(24) 我不去看電影了。

‘I am not going to watch the movie (anymore)’ (as opposed to the original plan).

- a. *I can help you now.*
- b. *The movie received negative reviews.*

(25) 我不去看電影。

‘I am not going to watch a movie’.

The prior opposite state is ‘going to see a movie’, and the new state is current to the situation. For example, the speaker wants to let the hearer know her latest decision. The possible currently relevant state could be that the speaker can help the hearer now, or that the speaker cannot go with the hearer now. In contrast, in (25), with the absence of sentential *le*, it is just a simple statement. It does not assume a prior opposite state nor does it strongly convey the meaning of current relevance.

‘*Méi*...*le*’ is another subtype of the ‘NEGATION...*le*’ construction. In (26), the use of sentential *le* indicates the subject does not have money at the moment as opposed to the moment prior to the speech time. The relevant state could be that the subject cannot buy food anymore, and so on.

(26) 我沒有錢了。

‘I do not have any money anymore’.

- a. *I cannot keep lending out money.*
- b. *I do not have enough money to buy tickets.*

Finally, ‘*bié*...*le*’ is an imperative construction. In (27), the prior opposite state is the hearer’s planning going out. The speaker asks the hearer to change his mind. The relevant state could be that it is raining outside, or that the speaker needs the hearer to stay at home.

(27) 你別出去了。

‘Don’t go out’ (as opposed to the hearer’s original plan).

- a. *It is raining outside.*
- b. *Stay at home and study.*

Due to the negation words combined with sentential *le* that carry the meaning of ‘not anymore’, the concept of prior opposite state is more salient in the ‘NEGATION...*le*’ construction. In contrast, the notion of prior opposite state is not as salient in the ‘*yǐjīng*...*le*’ construction.

‘Correcting a wrong assumption’ or ‘contrary to expectation’ is one of the five categories of currently relevant state indicated in Li, Thompson and Thompson (1982). *Yǐjīng* tends to co-occur with sentential *le*, especially in conversations. This is due to the meaning of *yǐjīng* ‘already’ which also presupposes a prior negative state (Lobner 1989; Michaelis 1992; Soh 2009).

The ‘*yǐjīng* . . . *le*’ construction conveys ‘contrary to expectation’ and its meaning presupposes a prior opposite state.

- (28) A: 明天有考試。
 ‘There is an exam tomorrow’.
 B: 我已經知道了。
 ‘I have already known’.

Speaker B, employing the ‘*yǐjīng* . . . *le*’ construction, implies that Speaker A assumes that Speaker B did not know about the exam. Otherwise, Speaker A would not want to inform Speaker B in the first place. Speaker B’s utterance is meant to correct such an assumption.¹⁰ In (28), the change of state is not about from not knowing the exam to knowing the exam but is about the correction of the hearer’s knowledge. Even though the ‘*yǐjīng* . . . *le*’ construction presupposes a prior opposite state like the ‘NEGATION. . . *le*’ construction, the status of prior opposite state is less prototypical in the ‘*yǐjīng* . . . *le*’ construction than in the ‘NEGATION. . . *le*’ construction.

As pointed out by Nishiyama and Koenig (2010), one of the functions of the PERFECT constructions is to set up a topic and to start a conversation. They term this ‘topic negotiation’. Here is their example (Nishiyama and Koenig 2010: 634).

- (29) A: Have you seen DANCING WITH WOLVES?
 B: Yeah. I’ve seen that, that’s, uh, that was a really good movie.

They state that the speaker uses the PRESENT PERFECT to negotiate a topic. The state in this set of examples could be that the speaker wanted to talk about the movie. The ‘SENTENCE *le ma?*’ construction also performs the same function. The following example is taken from the Sinica Corpus.

- (30) 您把車開來了嗎? (Sinica Corpus)
 ‘Did you drive your car here?’

The speaker in (30) uses the ‘SENTENCE *le ma?*’ construction to set up a topic that is relevant to the current situation. For example, the speaker needs the hearer’s car so that he can move his stuff. Therefore, setting up a topic can be treated as focusing on currently relevant state. This function cannot be easily explained by the traditional notions of ‘completion’ or ‘change of state’. Currently relevant state can better account for the use of ‘SENTENCE *le ma?*’ construction.

To sum up, sentential *le* construction shows prototype effects. Some are more prototypical than the others. For example, a sentence whose base verb is a state such as (9) is easier to be associated with the notion of change of state than a sentence with an event verb such as (11). Prior opposite state is more salient in sentences with negation words than others. Nevertheless, all of them are related to the central meaning of currently relevant state.

From Prototype Effects to Pedagogical Grammar

Since the most prototypical meaning of the PERFECT constructions is currently relevant state (Dahl and Hedin 2000; Lindstedt 2000), the emphasis on teaching sentential *le* should be the

notion of ‘current’, ‘relevant’, and ‘state’. In other words, why the (new) state introduced by sentential *le* is relevant to current context. The notion of prior opposite state should also be incorporated to make the notion of change of state more accessible. That is, change of state should be explicitly defined as the opposition between prior opposite state and currently relevant state. The idea shown in Figure 19.1 can be simplified as Figure 19.2 below.

Sentential *le* construction that represents the prototypical currently relevant state should be introduced first and less prototypical ones should be gradually taught later. First, prototypical ‘state’ should be introduced before the less prototypical ones. Second, prototypical ‘prior opposite state’ should be taught before the less representative ones. Third, the prototypical notion of ‘current’ should be taught first. Finally, the derivative notion of currently relevant state such as ‘topic negotiation’ can be introduced later. Table 19.2 outlines the sequence. Specifically, when teaching the notions of change of state, prior opposite state, continuation, and topic negotiation, teach the constructions listed in the column of ‘most prototypical’ constructions first and then introduce those listed in the column of ‘less prototypical’ ones.

Following this proposal, ‘SENTENCE *le*’ construction whose main verb is a state conveys the most prototypical meaning of currently relevant state. It is the ‘best example’ or ‘prototype’ and thus should be introduced first. In contrast, ‘SENTENCE *le*’ construction whose main verb is an event verb is less prototypical, which should be taught later. For example, sentences like (31) are the most prototypical exemplar in the present proposed pedagogical grammar.

- (31) 她現在喜歡吃壽司了。
‘She likes eating sushi now’.

The basic notion of ‘current’ can be exemplified by cases where the relevant state continues to the present. Since the prototype of the current time is the present, ‘now’ is shown above the vertical line in the time line in Figure 19.2. The shift of reference time, which is not prototypical, should be

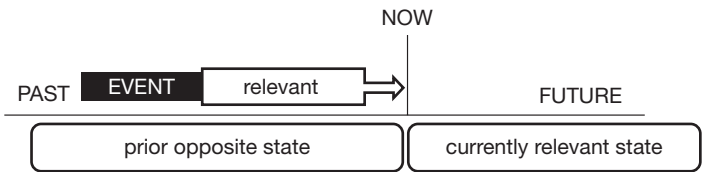


Figure 19.2 The prototypical meaning of sentential *le* in pedagogical grammar

Table 19.2 Teaching sequence and prototype

	<i>Most prototypical</i>	<i>Less Prototypical</i>
Change of state	SENTENCE <i>le</i> main verb = stative verb e.g. (9)	SENTENCE <i>le</i> main verb = event verb e.g. (11)
Prior opposite state	NEGATION. . . <i>le</i> e.g. (32)	‘ <i>yijing . . . le</i> ’ e.g. (28)
Continuation	DURATION <i>le</i> e.g. (16)	FREQUENCY <i>le</i> e.g. (18)
Topic negotiation	<i>le ma?</i> e.g. (30)	

explained later. The use of the temporal adverb *xiànzài* (現在) 'now' will serve the purpose that the relevant state is at the present time. In addition to installing the idea of 'the present' as part of the central meaning of currently relevant state to students, the temporal adverbial expression *xiànzài* 'now' also prevents students from mistakenly identifying sentential *le* as a past tense marker because both the notions of the past and the present are involved, not just the past, as most textbooks fail to acknowledge. Importantly, both the notions of a prior time and a current time are included. This is one of the reasons why native speakers choose to use sentential *le* over the one without.

Diagrams can be used to facilitate learning. For example, teachers can use an image to show the situation in the past in which the subject did not like sushi, and use another image to show a current situation that the subject likes sushi now or vice versa.

Instructors should also supply the contexts with possible scenarios of currently relevant states such as those exemplified in (9). Specifically, why does a speaker choose to say (31)? It could be that we can finally go to a Japanese restaurant with her which we could not do before. It could also be that you can buy sushi for her now. It is in this sense that the change of state is relevant to the conversation. The notion of currently relevant state thus can be incorporated into teaching by providing contexts and specific currently relevant states so that the explanation of sentential *le* is concrete not abstract. In other words, students should be advised that if they cannot come up with the relevant scenarios, then sentential *le* is not required.

To show students that a sentence without a sentential *le* as in (10) does not presuppose a prior opposite state, the left part of the picture in Figure 19.3 can be omitted and only the right picture is shown as in Figure 19.4. Then the distinction between (9) with *le* and (10) without *le* is clear. There is no information about a prior time in Figure 19.4. In other words, sentential *le* is used because there is a prior opposite state; hence the change of state and the currently relevant state. The contrast thus reinforces the idea that two notions of time, not just one, are involved.

The same strategy can be easily extended to teaching the 'NEGATION... *le*' construction too since it clearly shows prior opposite state.

(32) 她現在不喜歡吃壽司了。

'She does not like eating sushi anymore'.

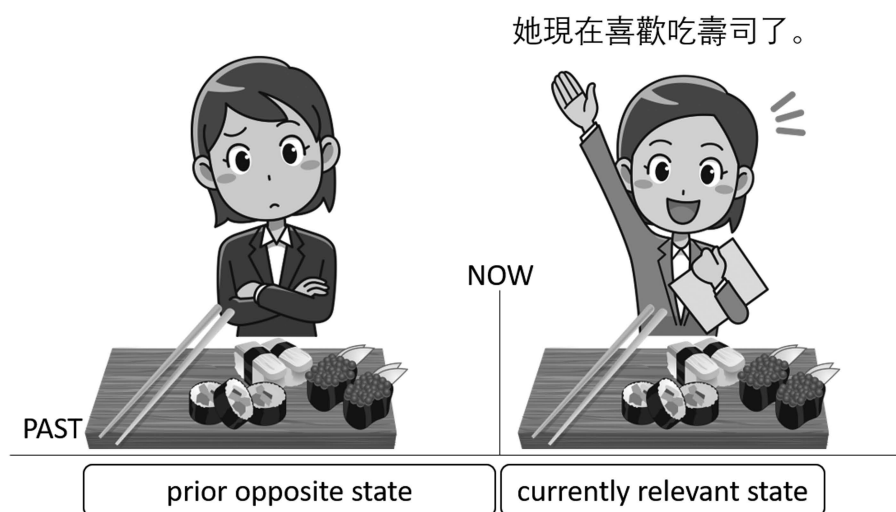


Figure 19.3 An example of prototypical currently relevant state

她喜歡吃壽司。



Figure 19.4 No current relevance

她現在不喜歡吃壽司了。

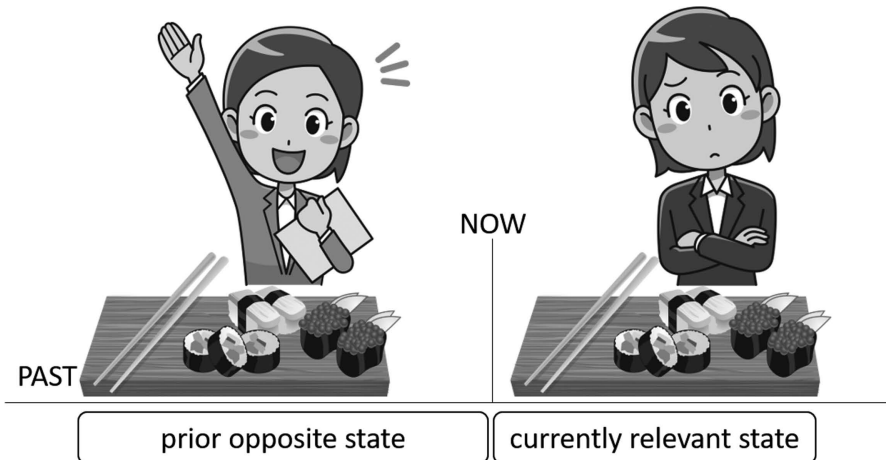


Figure 19.5 Prior opposite state and currently relevant state

The currently relevant state could be we cannot go to a Japanese restaurant with her now, and so on.

The main verb in (31) and (32) *xǐhuan* (喜歡) ‘to like’ is a stative verb. When the main verb is an event verb, the use of sentential *le* conveys currently relevant state too. It is not the prototype but a peripheral member in the category of sentential *le* construction. Therefore, it should be introduced after the most prototypical ones like (31) and (32) are taught. An example taken from

Integrated Chinese (Liu et al. 2017b) will be used to illustrate this point. Again, translations are theirs. A possible currently relevant state is supplemented for pedagogical purposes.

- (33) A: 你約了誰去滑冰。
 ‘Who did you ask to go ice skating with?’
 B: 白英愛。
 ‘Bai Ying’ai’.
 A: 你約了白英愛？可是她今天早上坐飛機去紐約了。 (Liu et al. 2017b: 2)
 ‘You asked Bai Ying’ai? But she flew to New York this morning’.
 She cannot go ice skating with you.

The current state introduced by sentential *le* is that *Bai Ying’ai* is not here due to the prior event of flying to New York. Since she is not here currently, she cannot go out with Speaker B. The use of sentential *le* is not only to convey completion of an event in the past but to express that a state introduced by a past event is relevant to the current conversation. The state is therefore not the state of her flying to New York, but the current state that she cannot go out with Speaker B. The following diagram shows the event in a past time is relevant to the present and creates a current state.

As discussed above, ‘contrary to expectation’ is one of the types of currently relevant states listed in Li, Thompson and Thompson (1982). Although both ‘contrary to expectation’ and ‘change of state’ presupposes ‘prior opposite state’, the former is less prototypical than the latter. Therefore, the introduction of the ‘*yǐjīng* . . . *le*’ construction should be postponed until the ‘NEGATION. . . *le*’ construction is taught so the sequence of teaching confirms to the approach motivated by prototype effects. Figure 19.7 depicts this subtype of change and currently relevant state in this PERFECT construction.

The function of the ‘SENTENCE *le ma?*’ construction is about setting up a topic. This type of construction is a peripheral member in the category of currently relevant state. Just like penguins do not possess the ability to fly but still belong to the category of bird, ‘SENTENCE *le ma?*’ construction does not have a salient part of prior opposite state, but it still belongs to the category of PERFECT construction. Therefore, this type of PERFECT construction should be introduced later. In the dialogue in Figure 19.8, the speaker sets up a topic by using the ‘SENTENCE *le ma?*’ construction. The current relevant state is that she wants to talk about the movie. If the answer is positive, then sentential *le* will be used to show the relevance.

As demonstrated from Figure 19.3 to Figure 19.8, these different constructions are all related to the central meaning of currently relevant state shown in Figure 19.2. Figure 19.2 helps by

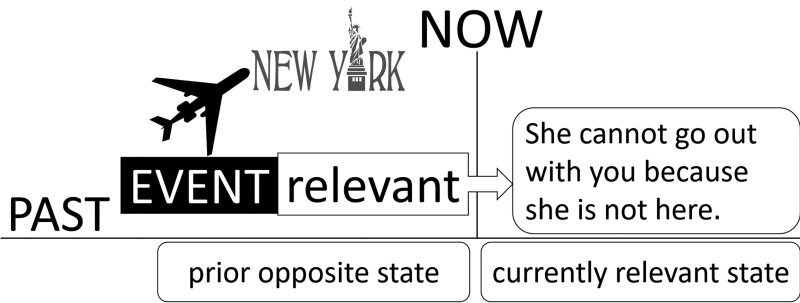


Figure 19.6 Non-prototypical change of state and currently relevant state

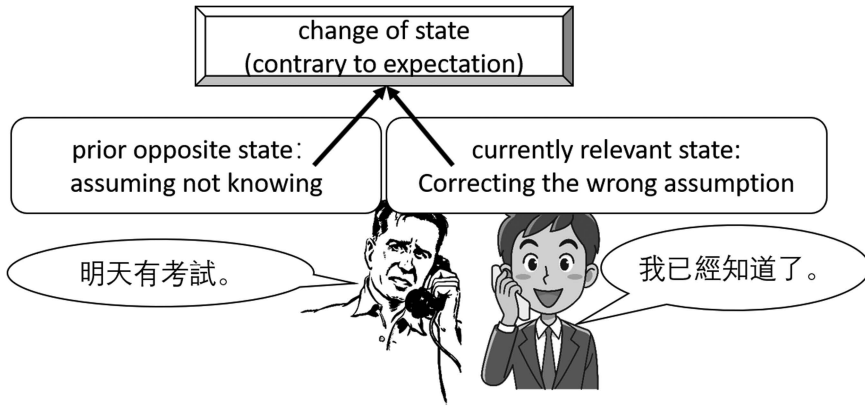


Figure 19.7 Contrary to expectation and currently relevant state

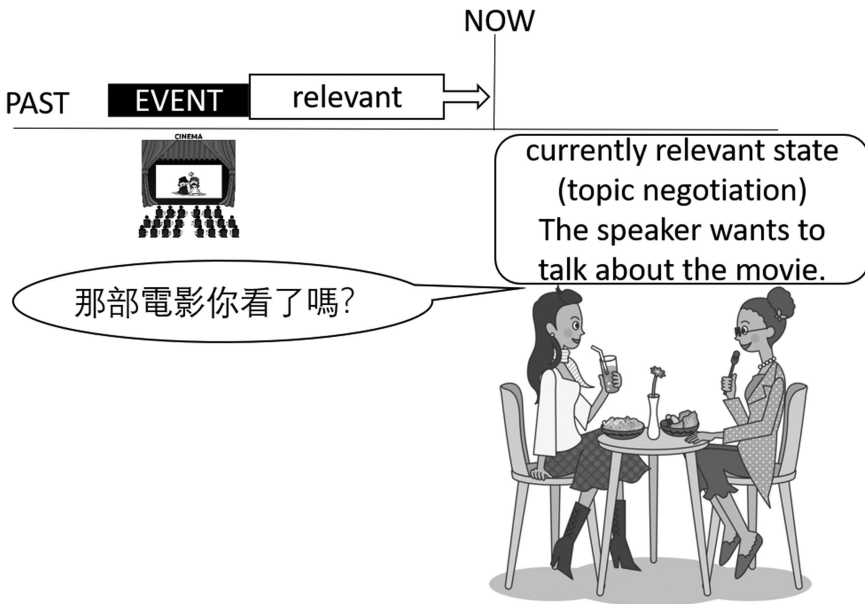


Figure 19.8 Topic negotiation and currently relevant state

illustrating the central idea of currently relevant state, and the remaining figures show the concrete examples for application. The images used in this chapter are from openclipart.org. Teaching professionals can find many useful images in openclipart.org where the clip arts are free for any reasons of usage.

In addition, the concept of fuzziness of category boundaries in prototype theory can be used to explain when to use sentential *le* in pedagogical grammar. As demonstrated in the minimal pair of (19b) and (20), when a sentence whose main verb is an event verb, the sentence is grammatical whether sentential *le* is present or not, even though the events in question both are completed in the past. Therefore, it is not a question whether it is wrong or correct to use sentential

le when describing a complete event in the past. It is mainly concerned with how a speaker construes the situation. Even native speakers are uncertain when to use sentential *le* without any contexts, let alone for students who have not been taught the notion of currently relevant state, or concrete examples of these conversational implicatures associated with the use of sentential *le*. If the situation is construed as relevant to the current conversation, then sentential *le* is used. Again, currently relevant state is a graded notion. If both a prior time or a current time are involved, sentential *le* is used. As discussed in Li, Thompson and Thompson (1982), sentential *le* is seldom found in written texts due to its lack of current relevance.

Finally, in Figure 19.2, 'now' is used to serve the prototypical use of the reference time in currently relevant state. Teaching professionals can later explain the uses and examples of sentential *le* in cases where the reference time is not the speech time.

Conclusion

By discussing the Chinese sentential *le*, this chapter demonstrates how prototype effects contribute to Chinese pedagogical grammar. Sentential *le*, like PERFECT constructions in other languages, perform the function of currently relevant state, which is a graded notion. This chapter suggests that the sequence of teaching various sentential *le* constructions should start out by teaching the most prototypical constructions and gradually introduce less prototypical ones. Since PERFECT constructions have similar properties across languages, it should be a useful notion that students can rely on and can use it as a background knowledge to understand the various uses of sentential *le*.

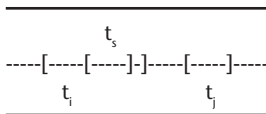
Notes

- 1 Soh (2009) discusses the association between the notion of prior negative state and the Chinese sentential *le*. This chapter adopts her insight but uses the term 'prior opposite state' in the context of pedagogical grammar and keeps the term 'prior negative state' in the context of linguistics.
- 2 Many studies suggest that sentential *le* and the verb *le* should be distinguished (Smith 1997; Soh 2009). The reasons are briefly summarized here. Soh (2009) points out that verb *le* cannot occur in stative sentences whereas sentential *le* has no such restrictions. The former but not the latter cannot appear in habitual sentences. Verb *le* does not co-occur with the negation marker *bù* (不) but sentential *le* can. The latter but not the former can occur with the modal verb *huì* (會). Due to the scope of this chapter, her examples will not be repeated here. Interested readers are referred to Soh (2009).
- 3 PERFECT and PERFECTIVE are two different categories. PERFECT constructions present a stative situation that results from a prior situation. PERFECTIVE aspect, on the other hand, presents a completed event as a single whole without reference to the internal structure of the event. IMPERFECTIVE aspect, in contrast, presents an ongoing event and the final ending point of the event is excluded. The relations between the situation time and the reference time among them are different. In PERFECT constructions, the time of the prior situation precedes the reference time. In PERFECTIVE aspect, the situation time is entirely included in the reference time. In IMPERFECTIVE aspect, the situation time includes the reference time. For example, the sentence 'Al has been drawing a circle' is PERFECT because it conveys some current relevance. The sentence 'Al was drawing a circle' is IMPERFECTIVE because the circle was not completed yet. There might not be a circle at all because the final ending point is excluded. In English, PERFECTIVE viewpoint can be implied by past tense. The sentence 'Al drew a circle' is presented in the PERFECTIVE viewpoint because the event was completed. In Chinese, PERFECTIVE is marked by verb *le* and IMPERFECTIVE is marked either by *zài* (在) or *zhe* (著). Interested readers are referred to Soh (2014), Liu (2015), and Tang (2016) for detailed summaries of the distinctions between these three categories in Chinese.
- 4 (3a), (3b), (4a) and (4b) are some possible currently relevant states. They are conversational implicatures inferred from the context. Possible currently relevant states are provided and presented in italics

throughout this chapter. But they are not the only possible currently relevant states. The conversational implicatures vary with the contexts.

- 5 A stativizer turns a base eventuality into a state. For example, the English PROGRESSIVE takes as its input an event verb and coerces the sentence into a stative description. It is generally assumed that PERFECT construction functions as a stativizer (Nishiyama and Koenig 2010).
- 6 The term 'state' used in this chapter includes both lexical states and grammatically derived states. The former belongs to the category of situation aspect (Smith 1997) and the latter can be created by the use of viewpoint aspect such as IMPERFECTIVE or PERFECT. Generally, 'only stative situations can include (as opposed to being included within) reference time (Michaelis 2011)'. Interested readers are referred to Smith (1997) for distinctions between the situation aspect and the viewpoint aspect and to Michaelis (2011) for stativity tests.
- 7 The PERFECTIVE *le* that occurs immediately after the verb *zhù* (住) 'to live' is used in (16) and (17) because of the temporal bound 'ten years'.
- 8 The experiential meaning can sometimes be expressed by *guo* (過).
- 9 Teng (2009) suggests that the term 'completive' marker is used instead of PERFECTIVE. He argues that specialized linguistic terms should be avoided and modified. While I agree with his opinion, it appears that PERFECTIVE is not limited to linguistics. For example, the term is used in Russian pedagogical grammars (Wade 2010; Murray and Smyth 2013).
- 10 The change associated with the '*yǐjīng* . . . *le*' construction is less prototypical than other sentential *le* constructions. Soh (2009) treats sentential *le* as a marker of change and proposes two types of changes associated with sentential *le*: 'change of state' and 'contrary to expectation'. In her analysis, both of them presuppose a prior negative state, and both types of change occur across a temporal domain. She proposes two common grounds at two distinct times as shown in the Time Line below.

Time Line



The first common ground (common ground_i) holds for the time before, during, and after the assertion is made. It occurs at the interval t_i and is included in t_s , the speech time. The second common ground holds (common ground_j) at t_j , the time posterior to t_i . Soh (2009: 643) indicates that 'the "contrary to expectation" reading arises when the speaker rejects the presupposition [$\neg p$ before t_j] for the subsequent common ground'. Soh's (2009) schematic representation is used to illustrate why (28) conveys a change.

CONTRARY TO EXPECTATION

common ground _i at t_i	common ground _j at t_j
P1: Speaker B did not know about the exam before t_s	P2: Speaker B knew about the exam before t_s
[presupposition]	[rejection of presupposition]
	P3: The speaker knows about the exam at t_s . [assertion]

Speaker B asserts the proposition that he knows about the exam is true at speech time as indicated as P3 above, and accepts the common ground P1 that Speaker B did not know about the exam. As argued in Soh (2009), Speaker B does not have to believe the proposition P1 is true, but only needs to accept it as 'part of the common ground at t_i '. By rejecting P1, the proposition P2 is created, which is the negation of P1. Therefore, there is a change from t_i to t_j across the temporal domain. In rejecting the common ground P1, Soh (2009) indicates that the speaker corrects a wrong assumption; hence the interpretation of 'contrary to expectation'.

References

English References

- Anderson, L. (1982) 'The "perfect" as a universal and as a language-specific category'. In Paul Hopper (ed.), *Tense-Aspect: Between Semantics and Pragmatics*. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Azar, B. (2016) *Understanding and Using English Grammar*. New York: Pearson Education ESL.
- Bohnemeyer, J. and Swift, M. D. (2004) 'Event realization and default aspect'. *Linguistics and Philosophy* 27(3): 263–296.
- Chief, L. (2011) 'Applying cognitive semantics to pedagogical grammar'. *Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association* 46(3): 1–20.
- Chu, C. (2011) 'Saliency mapping of figure and ground of motion in Chinese'. *Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association* 46(2): 49–69.
- Dahl, Ö. and Hedin, E. (2000) 'Current relevance and event reference'. In Östen Dahl (ed.), *Tense and Aspect in the Language of Europe*. Berlin: Mouton de Gruyter.
- Donaldson, B. (2006) *German: An Essential Grammar*. Abingdon: Routledge.
- Klein, W., Li, P. and Hendriks, H. (2000) 'Aspect and assertion in Mandarin Chinese'. *Natural Language & Linguistic Theory* 18: 723–770.
- Labov, W. (1973) 'The boundaries of words and their meanings'. In C.-J. Bailey and R. W. Shuy (eds.), *New Ways of Analyzing Variation in English*. Washington, DC: Georgetown University Press.
- Lakoff, G. (1987) *Women, Fire, and Dangerous Things: What Categories Reveal about the Mind*. Chicago IL: The Chicago University Press.
- L'Huillier, M. (1999) *Advanced French Grammar*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Li, C., Thompson, S. and Thompson, R. M. (1982) 'The discourse motivation for the perfect aspect: The Mandarin particle LE'. In Paul Hopper (ed.), *Tense-Aspect: Between Semantics and Pragmatics*. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Lindstedt, J. (2000) 'The perfect—Aspectual, temporal, and evidential'. In Östen Dahl (ed.), *Tense and Aspect in the Language of Europe*. Berlin: Mouton de Gruyter.
- Liu, M. (2015) 'Tense and aspect in Mandarin Chinese'. In W. Wang and C. Sun (eds.), *The Oxford Handbook of Chinese Linguistics*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Liu, Y. et al. (2017a) *Integrated Chinese, 4th edition: Volume 1*. Boston, MA: Cheng and Tsui Company.
- Liu, Y. et al. (2017b) *Integrated Chinese, 4th edition: Volume 2*. Boston, MA: Cheng and Tsui Company.
- Lobner, S. (1989) 'German schon—erst—noch: An integrated analysis'. *Linguistics and Philosophy* 12: 167–212.
- Mazet, V. (2017) *Practice Makes Perfect: Advanced French Grammar*. New York: McGraw-Hill Education.
- Michaelis, L. (1992) 'Aspect and the semantics-pragmatics interface: The case of already'. *Lingua* 87: 321–339.
- Michaelis, L. (2011) 'Stative by construction'. *Linguistics* 49(6): 1359–1399.
- Murray, J. and Smyth, S. (2013) *Intermediate Russian: A Grammar and Workbook*. Abingdon: Routledge.
- Nishiyama, A. and Koenig, J. P. (2010) 'What is a perfect state?'. *Language* 86(3): 611–646.
- Nissenberg, B. (2016) *Practice Makes Perfect: Complete Spanish Grammar*. New York: McGraw-Hill Education.
- Ritz, M.-E. (2012) 'Perfect tense and aspect'. In R. Binnick (ed.), *The Oxford Handbook of Tense and Aspect*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Robinson, P. and Ellis, N. C. (2008) *Handbook of Cognitive Linguistics and Second Language Acquisition*. Abingdon: Routledge.
- Rosch, E. (1978) 'Principles of categorization'. In E. Rosch and B. Lloyd (eds.), *Cognition and Categorization*. Hillsdale, NJ: Lawrence Erlbaum.
- Schmitt, C. (2013) *Schaum's Outline of Spanish Grammar*. New York: McGraw-Hill Education.
- Smith, C. S. (1997) *The Parameter of Aspect*. New York: Springer.
- Soh, H. L. (2009) 'Speaker presupposition and Mandarin Chinese sentence-final le: A unified analysis of the "change of state" and the "contrary to expectation" reading'. *Natural Language and Linguistic Theory* 27: 623–665.

- Soh, H. L. (2014) 'Aspect'. In C.-T. Huang Y.-H. Li and A. Simpson (eds.), *The Handbook of Chinese Linguistics*. Chichester: Wiley-Blackwell.
- Swick, E. (2018) *Practice Makes Perfect Complete German Grammar*. New York: McGraw-Hill Education.
- Talmy, L. (2000) *Toward a Cognitive Semantics: Typology and Process in Concept Structuring*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- Tang, S. (2016) 'Aspectual system'. In C. Huang and D. Shi (eds.), *A Reference Grammar of Chinese*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Taylor, J. (2008) 'Prototypes in cognitive linguistics'. In P. Robinson and N. Ellis (eds.), *Handbook of Cognitive Linguistics and Second Language Acquisition*. Abingdon: Routledge.
- Tyler, A. (2012) *Cognitive Linguistics and Second Language Learning*. Abingdon: Routledge.
- Wade, T. (2010) *A Comprehensive Russian Grammar*. Chichester: Wiley-Blackwell.
- Wu, S.-M. et al. (2007) *Chinese Link*. New Jersey: Pearson Prentice Hall.

Chinese References

- Hsiao, H.-C. 蕭惠珍 (2017) 認知語言學視角下之華語教學實證探究 (Cognitive Linguistics-inspired Perspectives and Empirical Studies of Teaching Chinese as a Second Language). Taipei: New Sharing.
- Teng, S.-H. 鄧守信 (2009) 對外漢語教學語法 (A Pedagogical Grammar of Chinese). Taipei: Crane.



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Part V

Materials and Curricula



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Considerations in Preparing Pedagogical Materials for Adult Native English-Speaking Learners of Chinese as a Second/Foreign Language

Cornelius C. Kubler

Introduction

The purpose of this chapter is to collect and discuss in one convenient place the main issues involved in the preparation of pedagogical materials for adult native English-speaking learners of Chinese as a second or foreign language. Inevitably, some factors will have been overlooked or given insufficient attention, but I have tried to be as comprehensive as possible within the confines of the space available. For many of the questions discussed here I have indicated my personal recommendation; but regardless of whether one agrees with me or not, I am confident that there is value in at least bringing these issues to the awareness of readers for their consideration before they embark on a new materials preparation project.

In pedagogy, we sometimes speak of the ‘pedagogical trinity’ of student, teacher, and textbook. Of these three, the first two are unquestionably the more important, for it is the learner who should be at the center of the enterprise, with the teacher playing a key role as the facilitator of the learning. However, that is not to say that pedagogical materials are unimportant, especially in the case of less experienced learners and teachers, or when working with a language as difficult as Chinese. I should clarify here that by the term ‘pedagogical materials’, I mean not only textbooks but also other types of materials that can facilitate the learning of Chinese including student workbooks, instructor handbooks, flashcards, audio recordings, video recordings, computer software, websites, and so forth.

Textbooks are especially helpful for beginning instructors since, in a good textbook, the material to be learned is presented in an organized manner by someone who has knowledge and experience in the area of teaching of Chinese. For inexperienced or weak instructors, a textbook is especially important to serve as a guide. As Bolitho (2016: 1) has put it, ‘Changes in textbooks are second only to changes in the format of examinations as a means of reforming teachers’ classroom practices’. Of course, textbooks also have disadvantages: they may cause the instructor to teach in a dry and uninteresting manner, they are unable to take learners’

backgrounds or other aspects of the learning environment into consideration as well as the instructor, and they can in time become outdated.

Tomlinson (2012: 158) notes that ‘Regardless of the views of experts who criticize the use of textbooks, most language teachers seem to continue to use them’. He continues: ‘We need textbooks to save time and money and many teachers want a coursebook which provides everything they need in one source’. Though methods such as Community Language Learning, where the learners determine what they wish to learn and write their own materials, may work for some languages, I believe strongly that a more systematic approach is called for in the case of a ‘truly foreign’ language like Chinese.

Before writing a new textbook, it is important first to familiarize oneself with materials already available. One should undertake a market survey of materials in one’s home country, mainland China, Taiwan, and elsewhere. Everything possible should be done to avoid unnecessary duplication of efforts and ‘reinventing the wheel’. Unlike earlier decades when materials designed for non-natives learning Chinese were few and far between, each year now sees the publication of new print and non-print materials of all kinds, so it is possible that one might find existing materials that meet one’s needs. Even likelier is that one will find something that partially meets one’s needs, in which case *adaption* and *supplementation* may be feasible ways to proceed.

Adapting Existing Materials

Writing a new textbook is a major undertaking that is bound to take more time and cost more money than anticipated. Adapting or supplementing existing materials is often preferable to starting from scratch. One should begin by listing the reasons why one is dissatisfied with the current materials. After one has completed the list and conducted a survey of available materials, one should ask if there are any existing materials that could be adapted, revised, or supplemented so as to meet learners’ needs.

As Stevick (1971: 44) notes, ‘With the growing shortage of time and money for writing new textbooks, particularly in the seldom-taught languages, there is a premium on making effective use of what already exists. We have sometimes acted as though, for any given set of materials the choice was only between using them and rejecting them. Adaptation, as a third alternative, has received very little either of time or of money or of prestige’. Tomlinson (2012: 151) points out that ‘Good teachers are always adapting the materials they are using to the context in which they are using them in order to achieve the optimal congruence between materials, methodology, learners, objectives, the target language and the teacher’s personality and teaching style’.

When we speak of ‘adapting’ a textbook or other pedagogical materials, we should be clear that this could consist of a number of different things. It could include deleting or skipping over some sections of the original material; reordering existing material; supplementing the existing material by writing new sections; revising the existing material to make it simpler or more challenging; updating it; localizing it; or personalizing it. In the case of all of these alternatives, the goal is better to meet the needs of the particular learners in a particular learning environment. In truth, supplementing existing materials so as to make them more *communicative* is typically one of the most needed and useful types of adaptation.

Perhaps one’s survey of existing materials confirms that nothing currently available meets learners’ needs or even comes close, so that adaptation is not realistic and the only realistic alternative is to develop new materials. In that case, it would be wise to heed the advice of Stevick (1971: 131): ‘Whoever rejects what is at hand and writes his own lessons assumes a double responsibility: to produce something that really is better for his purposes than what existed

before, and to reduce the likelihood that those who come after him will feel that they in turn have to write their own courses’.

Developing New Materials

It is usually not a good idea to try to write a textbook alone, since a textbook should reflect multiple backgrounds and perspectives. Everyone has their own favorite words and expressions, as well as their own preferred learning and teaching styles. A textbook written from beginning to end by one person tends to be too idiosyncratic.

It is best to write textbooks as a team, an ideal size being two to four people. If the team is much larger than that, the logistics can be complicated and maintaining internal consistency can become a problem. In the case of a Chinese language textbook for native English-speaking learners, the materials development team would ideally include one to two native speakers and one to two non-natives, all of whom should possess many years of successful teaching experience. Only the native will have perfect linguistic control and be an authentic cultural model for learners, but only a non-native with advanced proficiency and extensive in-country experience will understand what it is like to function as a non-native in Chinese culture, which, after all, will typically be the learner’s situation.

Besides native vs. non-native speaker, it is desirable also to have other types of diversity represented on the development team, such as male/female, mainland/Taiwan, college/high school, etc. At the inception of the project, the team members, availing themselves of outside consultants as necessary, should draw up a set of explicit principles and objectives, referring back to them frequently. These principles and objectives could be drawn from such domains as second language acquisition, applied linguistics, sociolinguistics, psycholinguistics, and discourse analysis.

Below I shall discuss in greater detail various considerations in preparing pedagogical materials for native English-speaking learners of Chinese as a second or foreign language. The discussion is divided into (1) general considerations, (2) culture, (3) speaking, (4) listening, (5) reading, (6) writing, and (7) preparing materials for high-level learners. Some of the material in the next few sections is a reworking and expansion of Kubler et al. (2006: 99–105).

General Considerations

Who Are the Intended Users?

The first step in developing new Chinese language materials is to form a clear picture of the intended users and their needs. This means primarily the learners but also to some extent the instructors. What is the age of the target users? What is their native language? What is their level in Chinese? What is their purpose in learning Chinese? How many hours per week will they be in class? How much time can they be expected to engage in self-study and review outside of class? Will the textbook be used in an English-speaking environment or in a Chinese-speaking environment, where the local society can reinforce what is learned in class? The answers to these questions will to a large extent determine the content of the materials.

Methodology

One should aim for eclecticism of approach. Language is so complex and the personalities and learning styles of learners and instructors are so different that no single approach or method

can possibly meet the needs of all learners at all times. The audio-lingual, communicative, functional-notional, proficiency-oriented, and grammar-translation orientations all have valuable insights to offer.

Objectives

At what level are learners assumed to be at the outset, and what is the proficiency goal by the end of training? One should find out in as much detail as possible the specific learning objectives for the learners. Is the training to cover all four skills (speaking, listening, reading, writing) or only three (perhaps not writing) or only two (perhaps only the oral skills)? Are the proficiency goals for the various skills the same or different? Remember that reading and, especially, writing take longer to develop than the oral skills but may be less important for some learners.

The various rating scales and skill level descriptions such as ACTFL, ILR, and Common European Framework are valuable for reference in developing learning objectives and deciding on content, but we must be clear that they are assessment tools rather than curriculum guides. They highlight the importance of communicative skills as curricular goals and are useful in telling us where learners need to get, but they do not provide detailed guidance on how to get there. If they are relevant, examination requirements, local or national government guidelines, and recommendations by national organizations should also be taken into account.

The Need to Be Efficient

Since the amount of time most learners have available for learning Chinese is limited, it is important to make the teaching and learning of Chinese as efficient as possible. The highest-frequency, most useful parts of the language should be presented first. Selection (deciding what to teach and what not to teach) and ordering (deciding when to teach what one has decided to teach) are crucially important. If selection and ordering are accomplished skillfully, then learners at any point in the curriculum will be able to attain the maximum possible proficiency for the amount of time spent; if learners leave the program before the entire curriculum is completed, at least they will have learned the most important and immediately useful parts.

Orientation

Especially if the materials are for beginners, a carefully designed orientation to the study of Chinese should be included. This could consist of a succinct overview of the Chinese language as well as a discussion of language learning strategies, which will help make learning more efficient and increase motivation. Learners at all levels need detailed instructions on how the materials are organized and how to use them. There should be a discussion of goals and objectives, since learners learn best if they know where they are going and why.

Content

The topical and situational content of the lessons should be useful and practical, and as rich, varied, and interesting as possible. In general, material should be introduced that has the highest and most immediate payoff value possible. The majority of the content should be about the language, society, and culture of Chinese-speaking societies, but there should also be some content involving the learners' home countries, since learners will at times need to be able to discuss this with Chinese-speaking interlocutors.

All the Chinese language presented should be as natural and authentic as possible, with no stilted ‘textbook Chinese’ written specifically for foreigners. Authentic materials can motivate learners and demonstrate how the language is really used. However, at the beginning level, an excessive amount of authentic materials can be counterproductive and result in inefficient learning; given the difficulty of Chinese, a systematic approach is called for most of the time.

Danger Areas

The materials must be free of gender, racial, and other biases; for example, the smart and capable roles in dialogs and stories should not all be played by men. The material should be age appropriate, so lessons for high school students should not include situations involving dinner banquets with heavy drinking. As Liu (2005: 337) recommends, the content should not be overly sad or tragic, since learners—especially those new to the study of China—typically wish to feel positive about the subject of their study. As Liu also observes (2005: 339), one should be careful about using humorous material, since Chinese humor may be difficult for non-native learners to appreciate. Moreover, including a humorous ‘twist’ in too many dialogs or reading selections could result in material that is not very representative of typical Chinese daily life.

Controversial political material does not necessarily have to be avoided, since learners need practice in dealing with such material and it can encourage classroom discussion, but the textbook writers must remain objective and neutral; sometimes it is wise to include opposing viewpoints. However, one should realize that including political materials may limit where the textbook can be used. The materials should not excessively promote the superiority of Chinese culture over Western culture or vice versa, lest some users become offended. Material for long-term use should not be too closely connected with current events, as it will otherwise quickly become out-of-date; in the case of newspaper readers, one way to avoid this problem is to include only articles of more permanent historical interest.

The Role of English

Assuming that the learners’ native language is English, then at the beginning level, all explanation must obviously be in that language. If the explanations in the printed or online materials are well done, there is actually no or only little need for instructors to use English in class. As learners’ levels rise, an increasing amount of explanation can be in Chinese, though specialized terms will still need to be translated into English even at the advanced level. An appropriate amount of linguistic explanation and analysis in the learners’ native language, as well as information about the culture and society, can render the learning process more efficient. Sometimes contrastive analysis of Chinese and English grammar can be helpful. The explanatory notes should be written clearly, with many practical examples provided, neither over-simplifying important facts of the language nor being unduly technical or detailed.

Structure of the Lessons

Linguistic features should be presented in a step-by-step progression from simple to more complex, with each new step building on the one before it. There should be a spiraling presentation of material so that, for example, the basics of a grammar pattern are presented in one lesson and more complex variations of it are presented later. To avoid the problem of cross-association, it is best to avoid introducing two similar but potentially confusing structures in the same lesson;

instead, teach one first, then in a later lesson review the first and introduce the second, contrasting the two structures and providing common examples of each.

There is so much to learn that Chinese language learning can easily become overwhelming. By dividing large tasks into a series of smaller ones, the learning becomes more manageable. The new material in each lesson should be presented in digestible amounts of approximately the same length. Especially at the basic level, the number of new grammar patterns, vocabulary items, and characters in each lesson needs to be carefully controlled. One should distinguish between drills, to which there is only one correct response, and exercises, to which there may be several correct responses. To achieve fluency and automaticity, most learners require a large amount of each. Drills should be as communicatively realistic as possible, ideally part of an exchange between two speakers, not only single phrases or sentences out of context.

In developing the structure of the pedagogical materials, one should take into account the three modes of communication: interpersonal (e.g. conversations, letters, email), interpretative (e.g. listening to a news report or reading the newspaper), and presentational (e.g. oral reports, written essays). To promote long-term retention, there needs to be extensive review of the new material presented. The textbook should be designed so that new grammar patterns, words, and characters are recycled periodically after they have been introduced. In addition, it is a good idea to include comprehensive review lessons after every few units.

In-Class and Out-of-Class Learning

One should make a list of all the learning activities that learners using the pedagogical materials being developed must undertake, and consider carefully which of these activities can be accomplished by learners outside of class and which must be accomplished in class with the instructor. The fact is that many language learning activities can efficiently be done by learners outside of class in self-study mode, e.g. drills and exercises that are based on audio and video, reading of grammar and culture notes, character writing practice, preparation of reading lessons, and written homework. The division of learning activities into in-class and out-of-class activities has obvious implications for materials design.

Leave Options Open for the User

Student and teacher needs vary widely as do the types of programs in which Chinese is taught. Therefore, it is desirable that the materials developer strive for maximum flexibility of use and leave options open for learner and instructor whenever possible. We should try to anticipate the different needs of different users. The textbook should be easily adaptable to fit different learning environments.

It is wise to provide more than the minimum amount of material required and designate some drills and exercises as optional, thereby empowering users to decide what to take up and what to skip. Other issues where options can be left open include: how and for how long to work on pronunciation; whether to teach spoken skills only or also written skills; when to introduce characters; whether to teach simplified characters, traditional characters, or both; whether to teach reading only or also writing; whether to allow writing by computer or only writing by hand; etc.

However, one should avoid excessive flexibility, which can lead to negative results in the case of self-learners or inexperienced instructors. It is wise to provide recommendations for how to use the materials with average, strong, and weaker students, and to explain the relative advantages and disadvantages of the various options provided.

Heritage Learners

Since a substantial percentage of learners in some programs may be of Chinese heritage, their special needs and interests should be taken into account. Information should be included on learning strategies applicable to them and special pronunciation and grammar challenges that they may face. For some of the lessons, content might be chosen that is of special interest to heritage learners.

The Importance of Accuracy

The Chinese language content and English explanations must be accurate and clear. All materials must be proofed carefully. Many Chinese language learners, especially those in intensive programs, already feel under pressure; to have to deal with errors and misprints can be frustrating for them and cause them to lose faith in the materials and the program.

Aesthetic Factors

The standard for pedagogical materials for Chinese is in general still below that for French, Spanish, German, Japanese, or English as a Second Language. While the situation has improved over the past few decades, there are still many aesthetically challenged Chinese language textbooks. For optimal learning to occur, pedagogical materials should be attractive and inviting. Factors such as the composition and layout of the copy as well as the inclusion of photographs, maps, diagrams, and other illustrations can promote effective learning.

Instructor's Guide

There should ideally be a comprehensive instructor's guide or teacher's edition to accompany the textbook or other pedagogical materials. This could include lesson plans, discussion questions, communicative exercises that can be done in class, sample quizzes and tests, answer keys, and other material to support teaching and learning. The introduction to the instructor's guide should be in both English and Chinese, so that native Chinese-speaking instructors with limited proficiency in English can quickly understand at least the key points of the materials.

Other Considerations

If possible, try to pilot samples of the new materials for a year or longer and collect feedback from learners and instructors so as to improve the materials.

Culture

Even if a non-native has attained perfect Chinese pronunciation and has mastered the rules of Chinese grammar, this alone is insufficient to ensure successful communication. Besides being able to speak correctly, learners must understand the rules of Chinese culture and society; they must know when to say what, how to make it more or less formal depending on the occasion (i.e. adjust register), and how to convey nuances. Instead of 'language *and* culture', we should actually speak of 'language *in* culture', since culture pervades the four skills of speaking, listening, reading, and writing. Given that culture is so important, it must be introduced appropriately in our pedagogical materials. Special instruction on participation in Chinese culture by the

non-native must be provided, since the non-native's situation will inevitably be different in many ways from that of the native.

Rather than adding a separate English 'culture capsule' in each lesson, as is done in some textbooks, culture should be taught in Chinese via the four skills as part of representative dialogs and reading selections. At the beginning level, *behavioral culture* will be the main type of culture taught, e.g. a dialog including introductions and the exchange of name cards. At the intermediate level, *informational culture* can be introduced, e.g. a dialog or reading selection on Chinese geography. At the advanced level, *achievement culture* can be studied and discussed, e.g. a short story by Lu Xun (Hammerly 1982).

In developing pedagogical materials for non-native learners, the Chinese language content must be culturally authentic. Readings should be as interesting as possible, with all notes and explanations not only accurate but accessible to learners. The notes about features of Chinese culture should take into account the cultural background of the learners. A range of Chinese-speaking societies should be included, with different locales and usages clearly indicated and explained. Both the standard language and regional varieties should be represented (e.g. Beijing Mandarin, Shanghai Mandarin, Hong Kong Mandarin, Taipei Mandarin, Singapore Mandarin).

Speaking

Pronunciation

In materials for beginners, there should be a section on pronunciation with explicit information, including diagrams or photographs, on how to articulate the sounds of Mandarin. Pronunciation has two aspects: production and perception; there should be ample opportunities for learners to practice both. Materials writers should keep in mind that learning how to produce and recognize the sounds of Mandarin is basically different from learning how to read and write a transcription system such as Hanyu Pinyin; pronunciation involves the mouth and ears and *is* spoken Chinese, while transcription involves the eyes and hands and consists merely of written symbols that represent the sounds of spoken Chinese.

One Track or Two?

At the basic level, spoken and written skills are most efficiently learned from separate but related materials. As Jorden and Walton (1987: 119) have argued, 'For Chinese and Japanese, the time requirements for learning characters, especially the writing of characters, are considerable. If oral language is taught via the native orthography, the entire learning process is greatly slowed, and in particular, the learning of speech is unreasonably and unnecessarily pegged to the speed with which learners can master an extremely memory-demanding written medium'. The preceding notwithstanding, by the beginning of the intermediate level, reading and writing should normally have caught up with speaking and listening, so that from that point on, the four skills may be integrated.

Language Samples

At the beginning and intermediate levels, spoken Chinese is best taught through speech samples consisting of dialogs that learners listen to, drill, memorize, and then perform in class. Grammar, vocabulary, functions, and culture are all embedded in these dialogs. Most of the other oral

learning activities—questions, discussion, and other communicative exercises—are based on the basic dialogs.

The dialogs should be contextualized linguistically and culturally, with information provided on the speakers, their location, ages, positions, and relationship. The dialogs should be short enough (6 to 14 lines) to be easily memorizable and performable. Since the speech samples should provide an appropriate role model for the non-native for interacting cross-culturally with Chinese speakers, the dialogs should involve one non-native and one (or occasionally more than one) native speaker, which reflects the situation the learner will face in Chinese society. Other dialogs involving Chinese speakers only can be created for listening comprehension practice. Importantly, the speech samples should include both informal situations (e.g. chatting with roommates in a dorm) and more formal situations (e.g. a business meeting or dinner banquet).

Learning activities should move from more to less controlled, becoming freer and more communicative as the course progresses. There should be opportunities for individual, paired, and group learning including information-gap exercises and exercises involving communication strategies such as circumlocution, changing the subject, and confirming meanings. As learners' levels rise, not only transactional content (e.g. purchasing a book) should be included but also material that provides learners with the language needed to develop and nurture interpersonal relationships with Chinese people. It is by using Chinese in such relationships that learners develop linguistic and cultural proficiency.

Training in Speaking at the Intermediate Level

Intermediate-level textbooks typically consist of reading selections, e.g. folktales or simplified essays on geography or history. Such texts may be good for practicing new characters and words in context and developing reading strategies, but they are not ideal for promoting higher-level speaking skills. Ross (2001: 19) stresses the importance of including 'activities for interactive oral discourse' in intermediate-level courses. She recommends reading selections that involve 'plots, choices, and unresolved situations in which events occur, decisions are made, and characters bring different perspectives and motivation to the situation'. Of course, there is no reason why, even at the intermediate level, there should not also be dialogs of the sort described earlier to supplement the reading selections.

Listening

Two Kinds of Listening Comprehension

Many learners and instructors assume that if the skill of speaking is taught and practiced, learners will automatically 'pick up' the skill of listening comprehension, but this is not necessarily the case. Moreover, one should distinguish between two different types of listening comprehension: *interactive listening*, such as occurs when one is a participant in a conversation; and *non-interactive listening*, such as occurs when one is overhearing a conversation in which one is not a participant, or when one is listening to a lecture, news broadcast, film, or television show. In general, interactive listening is easier for non-natives, since they have the option of manipulating the conversation by asking for repetitions, confirming meanings, requesting that the speaker speak more slowly, or even attempting to change the topic of the conversation to those topics they prefer discussing. On the other hand, in non-interactive listening, listeners ordinarily have no control over the speech they hear. Since non-natives will encounter both interactive listening

and non-interactive listening, it follows that they need practice in both and that both should be reflected in the pedagogical materials they use.

Developing Materials to Promote Listening Comprehension

In addition to the dialogues for speaking in typical Chinese language textbook, a special listening component should be provided, consisting of listening passages based on which specific tasks are to be performed by the student outside of class. The listening passages, which could involve conversations between two Chinese speakers, short monologues, weather reports, airport and train station announcements, and commercials, should be realistic and authentic, of the sort that non-natives living in China might typically encounter. The tasks could include identifying the general topic of a passage, or listening for specific information and answering multiple-choice questions. At the beginning level, most tasks should be accomplished in English, so as to avoid the problem of assessing mixed skills (i.e. if a listening comprehension question is asked in Chinese characters and the learner answers incorrectly, we cannot tell if it is because learners did not understand the listening comprehension passage or because they could not read the question). Learners should be provided with feedback on their performance.

Most of the listening comprehension passages in the pedagogical materials we develop should be based on what learners have learned, but there can also be some that purposely exceed the learners' current level, since it is important to give students practice in dealing with unfamiliar material, a skill they will need for the rest of their Chinese language-using lives. It is desirable to include a variety of voices in the listening passages—male, female, older, and younger, including some with moderate regional accents. Finally, as regards the assessment of learners' listening comprehension proficiency, it should be noted that, unlike speaking, listening comprehension is readily amenable to efficient testing in large groups.

Reading

Orientation

In the case of basic-level materials, a brief orientation to the Chinese writing system should be provided, including the history of characters, principles of character formation, and rules for simplification. Information on effective learning strategies for reading and writing should also be provided.

One Track or Two?

Reading should be carefully coordinated with speaking but, at the basic level, is most efficiently learned from separate materials, since non-native learners can learn spoken words much faster than they can learn the characters used to write those words. By designing separate tracks for the oral and written skills, we can also offer users maximum flexibility, so they can begin the written skills at whichever point is appropriate, or not at all.

Teach Speaking First

At the basic level, it is best not to teach characters for reading and writing until after the words they represent have been learned for speaking and listening. Because writing is based on speech and also because the oral skills are for most students more useful than the written skills, at the

basic level spoken Chinese should receive priority. The learning of written skills proceeds more efficiently if learners study the characters for words they have previously learned for speaking and comprehension. Under this approach, when learners take up a new character, they already know the pronunciation, meaning, and usage of the word it represents, which considerably lightens the learning load.

Spoken Register Vs. Written Register

Distinguish between 口頭語 *koutouyu* ‘spoken-style Chinese’ (which can be written down in characters) and 書面語 *shumianyu* ‘modern standard written Chinese’, which is strongly influenced by Classical Chinese. To reduce learners’ learning loads and reinforce their knowledge of spoken Chinese, reading and writing at the basic level should initially be taught through written *koutouyu*, which can serve as a transitional writing system leading toward the eventual goal, at the intermediate and advanced levels, of reading authentic Chinese texts in *shumianyu*. However, even at the basic level, we can introduce learners to some common examples of *shumianyu* such as dates or street signs. Doing so not only teaches learners some useful written language but also sensitizes them to the differences between spoken and written register.

Reading Exercises

To help learners develop reading fluency, a variety of reading exercises should be provided, including sentences, dialogues, narratives, letters, emails, notices, and advertisements. Learners should be asked to read for meaning and answer questions or perform other tasks based on their comprehension of the material. Exercises in skimming and scanning for specific information or discerning the general meaning of passages are also important. It is not enough for materials developers simply to prepare reading selections followed by vocabulary lists.

The reading selections should be as informative, interesting, and engaging as possible. As learners’ proficiency in the language rises, increasing amounts of content on culture and society can be included. As Tomlinson (2012: 164) has written, ‘Without affective and cognitive engagement, there is little possibility of deep processing and therefore little hope of enduring acquisition’.

There should be detailed notes on those aspects of written Chinese that differ from spoken Chinese. Full information should be provided on the structure of individual characters including radical, phonetic, and etymology. There should be exercises for sensitizing learners to the structure of characters and for differentiating similar-looking characters. Lessons and lists of characters and vocabulary should be kept short; learning characters and vocabulary in small but regular doses is more effective than long lists.

Diversity in Fonts and Formats

All reading texts should be in characters, not Pinyin, since only characters can be considered as constituting the authentic Chinese writing system. A variety of different type fonts and formats should be represented in the reading curriculum including printing, handwriting, horizontal format, and vertical format. Ideal is to present all content in both simplified and traditional characters, offering the user five options: only simplified, only traditional, first simplified and then traditional, first traditional and then simplified, and both simplified and traditional simultaneously. If simplified characters are chosen as the main type of characters, one should at least include the traditional forms for reference in the vocabulary lists. Supplementary materials such

as paper or digital flashcards are desirable to provide practice in recognizing both individual characters and the polysyllabic words they write.

Writing

We must at the outset be clear about what we mean by ‘writing’. In the case of Chinese, ‘writing’ can be interpreted to mean ‘handwriting’, that is, writing the individual characters by hand; or it can be interpreted to mean ‘composition’, that is, writing sentences and paragraphs that form an essay or other piece of writing, which can be accomplished by hand or by computer. Since for most learners both of these skills deserve attention, appropriate and sufficient exercises to help learners develop each skill should be included.

Regarding handwriting, in the section on reading above we have already discussed the importance of providing learners with access to information about the structure of individual characters. Provisions should be made to teach and allow learners to practice the correct stroke direction and stroke order of characters. Character practice sheets with model characters and stroke-by-stroke build-ups followed by empty boxes for learners to fill in should be prepared for the new characters introduced. One option is to indicate some characters for active learning for reading and writing, and other characters only for recognition in the passage in the current lesson. In recent years, so as to make Chinese easier to learn, some instructors no longer require students to write characters from memory, allowing them to do all of their writing on computer. It is debatable whether this is in the best long-term interests of students, but as materials writers develop their materials, they should take into account the possibility that their materials will be used in this manner.

Regarding composition, we should recognize that full proficiency in Chinese includes the ability to write. At the same time, we need to keep in mind that writing depends on the more basic skills of speaking, listening, and reading. Moreover, of the four skills, writing is the hardest to master but the least useful for most non-native learners. However, training in writing appears to result in stronger proficiency in reading, so it could be argued that some writing should be taught for the sake of reading. In any case, it is clear that careful thought needs to be given to the question of how much of the curriculum should be devoted to writing, and at what stage in the curriculum writing is to be introduced.

For practice in composition, instead of traditional essays, more practical topics should be chosen, e.g. filling out common forms and writing thank-you notes, telephone messages, and emails. Writing exercises can be created based on the reading selections in the reading textbook, e.g. answering questions on specific passages. A writing workbook can be developed to include both exercises for practicing handwriting and exercises for practicing composition. Importantly, to make the most efficient use of precious in-class time with the instructor, writing exercises should be designed so they can be done by learners outside of class in self-study mode.

Non-Print Pedagogical Materials

Since the most effective type of learning involves a multisensory, multimodal process, appropriate and well-designed non-print materials such as audio recordings, video recordings, computer software, and websites should be prepared to accompany and supplement the main textbook. Audio recordings should be of the highest fidelity, recorded at normal conversational speed, and should include a variety of different voices including male and female speakers as well as older and younger speakers. The recordings should be designed to assist learners in mastering the oral material outside the classroom as part of class preparation and review; this way, the moment learners enter the classroom, they are prepared to perform and be assessed.

On the audio recordings there should be backward buildup of sentences and other formats that facilitate practice and develop learners' pronunciation and fluency. Provisions should be made in the audio component for learners to access language use and meaning by engaging in various types of drills, including realistic, interactive exchanges. Video can be especially powerful for showing the cultural context of lessons. Charts, situation cards, PowerPoint slides, and various kinds of props may also be included.

As I have written elsewhere (Kubler 2011), educational technology has the potential to improve foreign language learning and teaching but must be used with care. On the one hand, things can now be accomplished that were impossible before; for example, video and satellite reception allow us to provide learners with almost unlimited access to Chinese cultural materials. Technology can enable both learners and instructors to make more efficient use of time by moving many language learning activities out of the classroom and freeing up valuable classroom time for those interactive learning activities that require a 'live' instructor. Moreover, with the present generation of students, use of technology can increase motivation and stimulate interest in learning. On the other hand, it is essential to design and implement a pedagogically valid curriculum. Applications of new technologies to foreign language learning have in the past sometimes been governed more by what the technology *can* do than by a concern with what it *should* do. We must always keep our pedagogical goals foremost in mind. After those goals have been set, one can consider how technology may facilitate attaining them; but it should always be the pedagogical goals that drive the technology and not the other way around.

Preparing Materials for High-Level Learners

The comments above are especially relevant to the preparation of materials for beginning to intermediate-level learners. In the section below, we discuss some issues specific to higher-level learners.

What is High-Level?

As I pointed out in conference proceedings published some years ago (Kubler 2004), there are a number of special considerations when preparing materials for high-level learners. But what is 'high level' and how does it differ from lower levels? The *frequency of use* of a term or structure by native speakers has much to do with these distinctions. The highest-frequency words like 我 'I' or 吃飯 'eat' and patterns like 因為...所以... 'because' are typically included in beginning courses because they are so frequent. The intermediate level includes language that is not quite so frequent as at the beginning level, e.g. 無論 'no matter' and 非...不可 'must'. The advanced level includes words and structures that any educated native speaker would know but which are less frequent than at the beginning or intermediate level, e.g. 蝌蚪 'tadpole', 隔音板 'sound-proofing tile', and 要嘛...要嘛... 'either...or...'.

Style or register, e.g. informal vs. formal, is also an important factor. What is taught at the beginning and intermediate levels is for the most part neutral or unmarked style, neither particularly colloquial nor particularly formal. On the other hand, the advanced level would include colloquial terms like 夾肢窩兒 'armpit', 來着 as in 她姓甚麼來着? 'Now, what *was* her name?', and 乒了乒啞的 'with a great clatter'; as well as formal terms like 僅次於 'be second only to', 歸功於 'give credit to', 令尊 'your father', and many 成語 'four-character formulaic expressions'. Formal register and informal register tend to be harder for non-native learners not only because of lower overall frequency but also because non-natives are generally less often in situations where they encounter such usage.

A third factor in determining whether a term is high-level is whether it is used in *technical or professional* contexts. This factor differs from the preceding two in that, while all educated native speakers will know lower-frequency general vocabulary as well as colloquial and formal general vocabulary, they cannot possibly know the technical and professional terms for every field. They will ordinarily have full control only of terms for the fields in which they have been trained or in which they work. Examples of technical or professional terms: 腦膜炎 ‘meningitis’, 微觀經濟 ‘microeconomics’, and 次方言 ‘subdialect’.

Clearly, the above-mentioned factors of high vs. low frequency, colloquial vs. formal register, and technical vs. lay usage overlap in a number of ways. For example, very formal usage and highly technical terms are typically also low in frequency in everyday conversation. There are also other factors influencing whether language is high-level, for example, discourse organization; length and complexity of grammatical structures; literary, historical, or political allusions; and regional or dialectal usage. In general, learners at lower proficiency levels should be expected to handle only standard usage, while learners at higher proficiency levels must be able to deal with ever greater degrees of variation from the standard.

Besides linguistic content, factors related to form can also affect difficulty level and must not be underestimated. In spoken Chinese, these may include volume, speech clarity, background noise, false starts, and slips of the tongue. In written Chinese, they may include type of character (traditional, simplified, alternate), font style, font size, print clarity, printed vs. handwritten form, punctuation, and typographical errors.

Developing High-Level Learning Tasks

Merely identifying or creating high-level language, whether spoken or written, is not enough; we must design tasks for learners to undertake based on that language. Such tasks might include: answering questions on the content; discussion of the content; preparing an oral or written summary; explicating in Chinese specific words or phrases; providing synonyms and antonyms of specific words; translation into English; and translation from Classical Chinese into Modern Chinese. One must be particularly careful when developing high-level materials not to neglect the oral skills. Useful sources for this purpose are video and audio recordings of lectures, reports, and interviews, as well as radio and television news, films, and 相聲 ‘comic dialogues’.

Just because a set of pedagogical materials is high-level does not mean learners do not need adequate grammatical and cultural explanations, drills, and exercises. At the higher levels, learners must know the exact meanings and usage of words, including rare and technical terms. For this reason, at this level it is important to spend time on what may be termed *word study*, including synonyms, antonyms, vocabulary expansion, common abbreviations, and principles of word-formation.

There are various other problems and challenges related to the topic of high-level materials in Chinese. One involves matching the difficulty level of the task to the difficulty level of the text; obviously, various permutations are possible, e.g. difficult text but simple task, or simple text but difficult task. It is also possible to have a single task involving multiple texts and, indeed, at the higher levels, some such tasks would seem desirable.

Conclusion

In the sections above, I have discussed various aspects of pedagogical materials preparation for adult English-speaking learners and teachers of Chinese, including the preparation of materials for training in the four skills and in the three modes of communication at levels ranging from

beginning to advanced. I have also tried to stress the importance of adapting existing materials, whenever possible, rather than beginning a new project from scratch. Although there will understandably exist differences of opinion about a number of the issues treated above, I believe that, at the very least, potential materials preparers would do well carefully to consider all the issues discussed in this chapter prior to beginning a new materials preparation project.

References

English References

- Bolitho, R. (2016) 'Designing textbooks for modern languages: The ELT experience'. University of Southampton: LLAS Centre for Languages, Linguistics and Area Studies.
- Hammerly, H. (1982) *Synthesis in Second Language Teaching: An Introduction to Linguistics*. Blaine, Washington: Second Language Publications.
- Jorden, E. and Walton, A. (1987) 'Truly foreign languages: Instructional challenges'. *The Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 490 (March): 110–124.
- Kubler, C. (2004) 'Some thoughts on preparing materials for high-level learners of Chinese'. In B. Leaver and B. Shekhtman (eds.), *Teaching & Learning to Near-Native Levels of Language Proficiency: Proceedings of the Spring & Fall 2003 Conferences of the Coalition of Distinguished Language Centers*. Salinas, CA: MSI Press.
- Kubler, C. (2011) 'Promises and perils of educational technology in foreign language curriculum and materials development'. In W. Chan, K. Chin, M. Nagami and T. Suthiwan (eds.), *Media in Foreign Language Teaching and Learning Studies in Second and Foreign Language Education*. Boston: De Gruyter Mouton.
- Kubler, C., ed. and task force chair, with Y. Biq, G. Henrichson, A. Walton, M. Wong, W. Wu and C. Yu. (2006) *NFLC Guide for Basic Chinese Language Programs*, 2nd edn. Columbus: National Foreign Language Resource Center, The Ohio State University.
- Ross, C. (2001) 'Evaluating intermediate Chinese textbooks'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 36(2): 1–22.
- Stevick, E. (1971) *Adapting and Writing Language Lessons*. Washington, DC: Foreign Service Institute, Department of State.
- Tomlinson, B. (2012) 'Materials development for language learning and teaching'. *Language Teaching* 45(2): 143–179.

Chinese Reference

- Liu, Y. 刘月华 (2005) 关于高年级中文课本的编写 'Special considerations for writing advanced-level textbooks'. In C. Li, Y. Chen and H. Liang (eds.), *Reflecting on the Future of Chinese Language Pedagogy: Honoring the 40-year Distinguished Career of Professor George Chih-ch'ao Chao*. Taipei: Shida Shuyuan.

Intercultural Communicative Competence in CFL Language Curricula

Madeline K. Spring

Introduction

This chapter addresses an aspect of the Chinese Foreign Language curriculum that is of critical importance for all language learners. At the core of language learning is the notion that human beings communicate through language, and every language is situated in a specific cultural context. Language learners who desire to communicate with others in the language spoken and written in that location will inevitably encounter a new cultural environment. In other words:

1. We cannot teach language without teaching culture.
2. Language learning without a focused cultural literacy component is not enough.

Teachers of Chinese at any level generally are eager to introduce learners of Chinese to China's rich cultural traditions. This chapter offers various suggestions for pedagogical approaches to incorporating culture with language teaching systematically and in ways that allow students of all ages and levels of language proficiency to reach deeper levels of understanding about aspects of their own culture and about Chinese culture. Easily accessible resources for teaching language and culture are also presented.

To begin, let's consider a scenario that frequently occurs in Chinese language classes. A hypothetical teacher, Jia laoshi 贾老师, a native speaker of Chinese, is excited to connect language and culture in the classroom. As Chinese New Year approaches, Jia laoshi explains to her students how Chinese celebrate the new year. Everyone gathers with family members, eats dumplings (*jiaozi* 饺子) and candy made from dates and walnuts, and plays mahjong. A year later, Gary Whitman, one of the students from this class, actually spends Chinese New Year's in China with a Chinese family. To his surprise, his host family does not do any of these things. Instead, they eat clams, fish, cellophane noodles, and sticky rice cake (*niangao* 年糕), make paper cuttings for household decorations, and watch celebrations on television. All young people receive red envelopes (红包), containing an incidental amount of money. None of the other people Gary meets celebrate the holiday the way Jia laoshi said. This makes Gary feel conflicted between what Jia laoshi taught in class and the kind of situations he discovers in China. On some level, this seeming discrepancy makes him question how authoritative she might be regarding other cultural and even linguistic information.

What went wrong in this scenario? Jia laoshi approached the topic of New Year's celebration based only on her own experience and missed the opportunity to let students explore more about the broader topic of holiday celebrations, starting with reflections on what holidays are important in the students' own lives and how these are celebrated. Her students could have shared what different foods they associate with holidays, how some families maintain strict food traditions, and how others might enjoy experimenting with different options. From there, the lesson could have moved to a broader view of how Chinese celebrate their most important holidays, which would incorporate specific vocabulary, pragmatic usage, etc. Ultimately students would have reached a deeper understanding of the general topic of holiday celebration globally, which will enhance their ability to interact and communicate appropriately. Rather than lecturing her students on one possible way of celebrating Chinese New Year, Jia laoshi could have trained them to be 'cultural detectives', prepared to interact, explore, and continue learning beyond her classroom.

The disappointing outcome for Gary, to some extent, reflects what may be happening in Chinese language classes in K–16 settings across the US. Despite growing awareness of the importance of including culture in language teaching, studies show that there is still a significant disconnect between teacher's statements about culture and how it should be taught and what actually happens in the classroom. Often this is a result of time restrictions—teachers are always racing to get 'through the (language) lesson',—and culture ends up being an afterthought. When cultural concepts are included in a lesson, as in the situation above, they are presented in generalities, and often linked to the teacher's own experiences and thus presented in teacher-centered contexts. The extent of student exploration may be in finding information on the internet that confirms these 'cultural facts', or in supplementary notes that students may or may not deem central to the linguistic objectives of the lesson. Teachers can report that they have included 'culture' in their language courses, but the impact on students' cultural competence may be minimal.

Another factor that may prevent deeper engagement with culture in Chinese language curricula is that some teachers at the primary and secondary levels believe that a deeper analysis of Chinese culture requires high levels of language proficiency as well as high levels of cognitive development, and should wait until students are either in AP Chinese courses or at the college level. Teachers of beginning-level language courses in postsecondary programs similarly advocate that the focus of first- and second-year classes must be on grammatical forms and communicative functions, and there is little time to add a cultural component. At times teachers may relegate a specific amount of time to spend on culture (e.g. 20 minutes on Fridays, or after students have taken a test or a quiz). Another way some teachers approach culture is to require student participation in cultural events (e.g. celebrations of Chinese holidays, attendance at Chinese movies or lecture series). As well-meaning as these efforts are, these approaches implicitly send students the message that culture is 'extra', and not as important as other aspects of the language course. However, as we shall see in this chapter, linking language instruction to learning about Chinese culture in meaningful ways need not wait until students are at high levels of proficiency. In fact, all aspects of culture can be approached from the very beginning of students' interaction with the Chinese language, regardless of age, previous background, or specialized training of teachers.

Referencing research-informed pedagogical practices, the following questions will be discussed:

1. What does culture mean? How has culture been defined in the fields of Anthropology, Communication Studies, and Studies of Second Language Acquisition?
2. What do we mean by culture in the Chinese context? What about 跨文化 (Behavioral culture, also translated as cross-culture)? Why is China considered a 'high-context' culture?

3. What are some of the approaches taken to the study of cultures?
4. When it comes to adopting pedagogical frameworks, what are the different theoretical lenses that can be used to distinguish between Intercultural Competence (IC) 跨文化能力和 Intercultural Communicative Competence (ICC) 跨文化沟通能力?
5. How can the World Standards and the Three Ps (Products, Practices, Perspectives) be aligned with ICC?
6. How can Chinese language teachers at all levels move from these theoretical issues involving culture to developing implementation of a curriculum that develops cultural awareness of students' own culture as well as the cultures in the Chinese-speaking world?
7. What are some good resources for integrating ICC Competence in Chinese Curricula?

What Do We Mean by 'Culture'?

Definitions of culture abound, and it is beyond the scope of this chapter to offer a comprehensive survey. Nonetheless, it is worthwhile considering a few definitions that have impacted the field of cultural and intercultural communication, and therefore are directly connected with language pedagogy. Studies on the significance of culture are often interdisciplinary in nature, coming from Anthropology, Linguistics, Psychology, Sociology, and Intercultural Communication.

As early as 1952 the anthropologists Kroeber and Kluckhohn had amassed a list of over 164 different definitions for culture, upon which the following was based:

Culture consists of patterns, explicit and implicit, of and for behavior acquired and transmitted by symbols, constituting the distinctive achievements of human groups, including their embodiment in artifacts; the essential core of culture consists of traditional (i.e. historically derived and selected) ideas and especially their attached values; culture systems may, on the one hand, be considered as products of actions, on the other, as conditioning elements of future actions.

(Kroeber and Kluckhohn 1952)

Edward T. Hall, a pioneer in the field of cultural anthropology proposed the simple definition that 'Culture is communication' (Hall 1959: 94). Nelson Brooks (1968) echoed this idea of culture being deeply rooted in language, which is a basic means of human communication. Hofstede, Hofstede, and Minkov (2010), prominent researchers in Communication Studies, focused on the contextual aspect of culture, stating that 'culture consists of the collective programming of the mind that distinguishes the members of one group or category of people from others' (p. 6). As we see in these and many other sources, culture is not limited to a body of knowledge that teachers can pass onto students. In discussing culture, distinctions among what type of culture are useful. Hammerly (1982) divides culture into three areas, which he explains as follows: 1) Achievement culture: the 'hallmarks of a civilization', 2) Informational culture: what a society values, and 3) Behavioral culture: how a person navigates in daily life (512–514); the terms in Chinese are *chengjiu wenhua* 成就文化, *xinxi wenhua* 信息文化, and *xingwei wenhua* 行为文化). Similarly, Scollon and Scollon (1995) juxtapose 'high culture' and 'anthropological culture', by explaining that the former 'focuses on intellectual and artistic achievements', whereas the latter refers to a culture's 'customs, worldview, language, kinship system, social organization, and other taken-for-granted day-to-day practices of a people which set that group apart as a distinctive group' (p. 126). McCarthy and Carter (1994) suggested a general distinction between 'Capital C' and 'Lowercase c' ('Big C/Little c'), which in the first case refers to Knowledge-based Culture (i.e. holidays, famous people, significant historical events, etc.) and in the second refers to

Behavioral Culture, i.e. how one conducts oneself in society based on norms, values, beliefs, and attitudes (p. 151).

Another important aspect of culture is performance culture (*tiyan wenhua* 体演文化). Performed culture as a pedagogical approach focuses on meaning first, and considers ‘the linguistic code’ as a way to approach and participate in meaning (Walker 2010: 7; Qin 2017). Undeniably, all the aspects of culture described above are significant elements of cultural literacy, especially in reference to Chinese culture.

Turning now to scholars writing about culture in the context of foreign-language learners, let us keep in mind Wierzbicka’s (1979) comment that ‘every language embodies in its very structure a certain world view, a certain philosophy’ (Wierzbicka, 1979). Neuliep (2018) elaborated on this sentiment, defining culture as ‘an accumulated pattern of values, beliefs, and behaviors shared by an identifiable group of people with a common history and verbal and nonverbal symbol systems’ (p. 16). The complexity presented in this cultural perspective goes far beyond the idea of learning the names of famous poets, historical periodizations, or other discrete sets of information. Although knowing facts inevitably is part of cultural competence, culture must be understood more broadly. As Liddicoat and Scarino (2013) stated, ‘Viewing culture as a dynamic set of practices rather than as a body of shared information engages the idea of individual identity as a more central concept in understanding culture. Culture is a framework in which the individual achieves his/her identity using a cultural group’s understandings of choices made by members as a resource for the presentation of the self’ (p. 23).

In other words, culture is a process, not something that is fixed, and, as Paige et al. (2003) stated, ‘Culture learning is the process of acquiring the culture-specific and culture-general knowledge, skills, and attitudes required for effective communication and interaction with individuals from other cultures. It is a dynamic, developmental, and ongoing process which engages the learner cognitively, behaviorally, and affectively’ (p. 4). Kramsch too emphasized this aspect of culture: ‘In today’s multilingual context, culture is no longer shared membership in one single community of like-minded individuals who all share the same history, memories and dreams of the future. Culture has become deterritorialized; it lives in the minds of expatriates, immigrants, travelers; it is fossilized in the stereotypes of textbooks, Hollywood fantasies, publicity logos and marketing jingles’ (Kramsch 2009, quoted in Kramsch 2014: 250).

Matching linguistic pedagogy goals with student engagement through viewing cultural practices and behaviors is complex and challenging. Kramsch (1993) advocated that we guide language learners to define a ‘third space’, which resides ‘at the intersection of multiple native and target cultures’. In this space, learning about culture becomes an engagement with cultural practices and patterns rather than exposure to information about a culture, and cultural competence is developed through language learning that involves cultural practices and behaviors. The emphasis on culture as **process** and beliefs, and behaviors as **patterned**, is important to keep in mind as we move to considering meanings for culture in Chinese traditions.

What is *wenhua* 文化 (‘Culture’) in the Chinese Context?

As all teachers who teach about China on any level in any discipline would readily agree, culture (*wenhua* 文化) is at the forefront of China’s vast history and traditions. For students of Chinese to attain cultural literacy they will inevitably need varied levels of formal knowledge of China’s rich cultural historical, philosophical, literary traditions plus understandings of, behaviors, attitudes, values, etc. In other words, culture in a language curriculum moves far beyond decorating a classroom for a specific holiday; it also encompasses more than explanations of cultural associations with specific colors and regular cultural practices.

Given China's long and complex history, finding a succinct definition of culture *wenhua* is a challenge. Looking at the basic meanings of the characters in the Chinese word *wenhua* 文化, we find that in early Classical Chinese texts, *wen* sometimes referred to 'a mark, a pattern, or a line'. An example of this usage from the *Zuozhuan* 左傳. (*The Commentary of Zuo*), an early historical narrative about events in the Spring and Autumn period (771–476 BC) and one of the primary texts in the pedagogical curriculum through which educated Chinese learned history, states 'When Zhongzi (referring to the daughter of Duke Wu from the state of Song) was born, she had a line on her hand'. 仲子生而有文在其手 (*Zuozhuan*, Yin (r. 772–712 B.C.); Yang, Bojun 楊伯峻 (1901–1992) (1995). *春秋左傳注疏* (*Annotations to the Zuo Commentary to the Spring and Autumn Annals: A Revised Edition*). Beijing: Zhonghua shuju). Here the line or 'mark' is specifically a 'birthmark', but elsewhere *wen* means any mark or pattern.

Another early connotation of *wen* is 'civilized or well-educated', which is often juxtaposed with *wu* 武 (martial), to depict someone who was well-versed in civil and military matters, i.e. both a scholar and a soldier. In the well-known Yuan dynasty (1279–1368) drama *Handandao xingwu huangliangmeng* 邯鄲道省悟黃梁夢 'On the Handan Route, Awakening from a Dream while Millet Cooks' (Ma Zhiyuan 馬致遠 (ca. 1250–1324). Lu Dongbin 呂洞賓, one of the eight Daoist immortals, describes himself: 'From young in my studies I reached the level where both civil (文) and martial (武) arts have been achieved', 自幼學得文武雙全 (Scene 1. 5a). Retrieved from www.booksloverhk.com/chi_lit_/photo/45/45/_1.htm) In fact, artistic renderings of Lu Dongbin generally depict a scholar holding a sword.

Hua, the second character in word *wenhua*, implies a process of 'transformation' or 'change'. The *Xiaojing* 孝經 (*Classic on Filial Piety*), an authoritative Confucian text describes the former kings of ancient China as having been so exemplary they could **transform** the people (*hua min* 化民), 'The ancient kings, seeing how their teachings could transform the people, set before them therefore an example of the most extended love, and none of the people neglected their parents' 先王見之可以化民也, 是故先知以博愛而民莫遺其親, (Li Xueqin 李學勤, 1999; *Xiaojing zhushu*, 孝經注疏, 3.7; Legge 1879: 24). In addition to the verbal meanings of *hua* as (to transform, to make a pattern, to civilize) *hua* is also a noun, meaning '**patterns or transformations**'.

Currently *wenhua* still retains some of these earlier meanings in referring to something that is patterned and has a civilizing, transformational effect. When something is tagged as being in the *wenhua* category, this artifact, be it a person, a historical event, a famous poem, or a holiday etc. is deemed a critical and enduring part of Chinese civilization. Interestingly, some definitions of 'culture' in Western traditions, also refer to patterns. For example, Geertz (1973) noted that culture brings social groups together through a 'transmitted pattern of meanings embodied in symbols' (p. 89). Omaggio-Hadley (2001: 349), well known for her seminal work on language pedagogy, similarly defined cultures as 'the patterns of everyday life, the do's and don'ts of personal behavior, and all the points of interaction between the individual and the society'. In these cases, the underlying assumption is that culture signifies accumulated patterns of beliefs, values, and behaviors that can be transformative.

What Are Some of the Approaches Taken to the Study of Cultures?

A. Binary Approaches

Many researchers have approached the study through a binary lens, i.e. through identifying two contrasting perspectives in culture and juxtaposing them. The following chart offers some of

these distinctive pairings. Readers are invited to turn to the references for information about the approach and the cultures that are generally associated with each of the binary pairings.

Binary Approaches to Culture

Among the binary distinctions given in this chart is the distinction between ‘high-context’ and ‘low-context’ cultures (Hall 1976), which some call Collectivism, Communitarianism or Individualism (Trompenaars and Hampden-Turner 1997). China is a good example of a

Table 21.1 Binary approaches to culture

BINARIES		REFERENCES
Cultural context		
High context	<i>Low context</i>	Hall (1959, 1976); Meyer (2014) https://online.seu.edu/high-and-low-context-cultures/
Collectivism (IDV) Communitarianism	<i>Individualism (ID) Individualism</i>	Hofstede (1997) Trompenaars and Hampden-Turner (1997)
Collectivistic; emphasis on role of family	<i>Individualistic; focus on individual's goals and achievements</i>	Hall (1976), Gudykunst (1996); Würtz (2006); Hofstede (1997); Walker (2010); Qin (2017)
High use of non-verbal communication	<i>Less physically animated. Focus on spoken words & content</i>	
Relies on shared cultural contexts to convey meaning; communication is nuanced; indirect, reserved; ambiguous, goal to maintain harmony	<i>Communication is clear & precise; repetition often helps convey meaning; direct, precise, dramatic, open, based on feelings or true intentions</i>	
Reader-responsible	Writer-responsible	
Presumption of shared knowledge responsibility placed on reader; assumption of shared contextual knowledge	<i>Writer assumes very heavy responsibility; presumption of shared knowledge; highly constrained</i>	Hinds (1987); Xue and Meng (2007); Helal (2013); Limbu, McCool, and Zeng (2013)
Perceptions of Time		
Polychronic Time	Monochronic Time	
Do multiple things at same time	<i>Only do one thing at a time (M-Time)</i>	Hall (1959, 1976)
High tolerance for interruption; flexible about changing plans.	<i>Highly value punctuality</i>	Walker (2010); Qin (2017)
Main focus on people; tend to develop lifetime relationships	<i>Great respect for privacy and private property; prefer not to lend or borrow.</i>	
Long term perception	<i>Short term perception</i>	Hofstede (1997)
Proxemics		
Need less personal space	<i>Need more personal space</i>	Hofstede (1997); Walker (2010); Qin (2017)

high-context culture/people, whereas the US is generally depicted as a relatively low-context culture (Hall 1959; Meyer 2014). Similarly, studies about connections between cultural norms and writing style have shown that in Chinese culture it is the reader's responsibility to understand cultural references, be they Big C or little C. On the other hand, American culture is generally said to be writer responsible, which means the author must be clear and explicit, avoiding cultural references that the reader may not readily understand (Xue and Meng 2007). In looking back at previous comments about *wenhua*, we note that if readers are not familiar with texts like the *Zuozhuan* and the *Xiaojing*, it is up to them to discover why these texts are considered authoritative in Chinese tradition. This is an example of a reader responsible writing style. Some readers with a Chinese background may find referring to canonical texts to explain and validate something in the present very familiar, whereas readers without this background may find it burdensome and unnecessary. Appeal to authority (in this case, historical and literary texts) requires that the reader (or audience if this were a speech) is familiar with the cited source. Therefore, if readers accept the authoritative cultural position of texts like the *Zuozhuan* and the *Xiaojing*, they will find the discussion more credible. This practice of argument by authority is often applied in classical Chinese argumentative discourse. Chinese rhetoricians also often employ the tropes of argument by analogy and by example. All three approaches to formal writing and oratory offer excellent examples of what is meant by identifying Chinese as a **high-context** culture that is **reader responsible**.

One danger of approaching culture through the kind of binary lens reflected in Chart 1 is the danger of oversimplification: since two contrasting perspectives are juxtaposed, one tends to see culture as either one way or the other, rather than as gradations on a scale. This simplistic approach runs the risk of stereotyping and 'othering' groups or individuals in a given culture, which may inevitably lead to misunderstandings and distrust (Linares 2016).

B. The Iceberg Model

The Iceberg Model, suggested by Hall, represents another approach to addressing culture; it shows culture in terms of the levels that are highly visible, such as behavior and customs, versus those that are submerged and hidden, such as attitudes and beliefs, and core values. Others consider the Iceberg Model metaphorically, people are the iceberg and the oceans where icebergs occur are cultures. Ioppolo (2014), in the video 'Talking Culture: The Iceberg Model' (2014, www.youtube.com/watch?v=w-l-WCHIYBY), uses this explanation. He divides the iceberg into four parts: the top fourth (i.e. attitudes and behaviors) is visible, whereas the lower three-fourths (i.e. core values) are submerged. An individual's basic assumptions about life are located at the deepest part of the iceberg.

C. The Onion Model

Another model that has frequently been applied to the study of culture is the Onion Model, which as one would imagine, supposes that the outer layers of culture, just like the outer sections of an onion, are more visible. As one peels away more layers, deeper levels of culture are displayed (Hofstede et al., 2010). Drawing on his previous studies, Hofstede assigned specific terminology for the various layers, as shown below:

While noting that cultural practices are how the sections of the onion become visible, Hofstede explains these sections as follows (Hofstede, Hofstede, and Minkov 2010: 8–9):

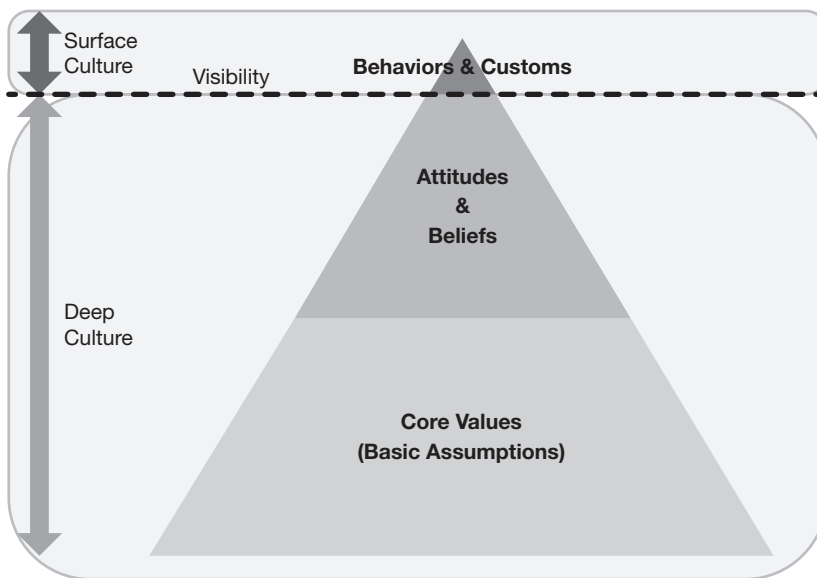


Figure 21.1 The Iceberg Model

Source: Garrett-Rucks 2016

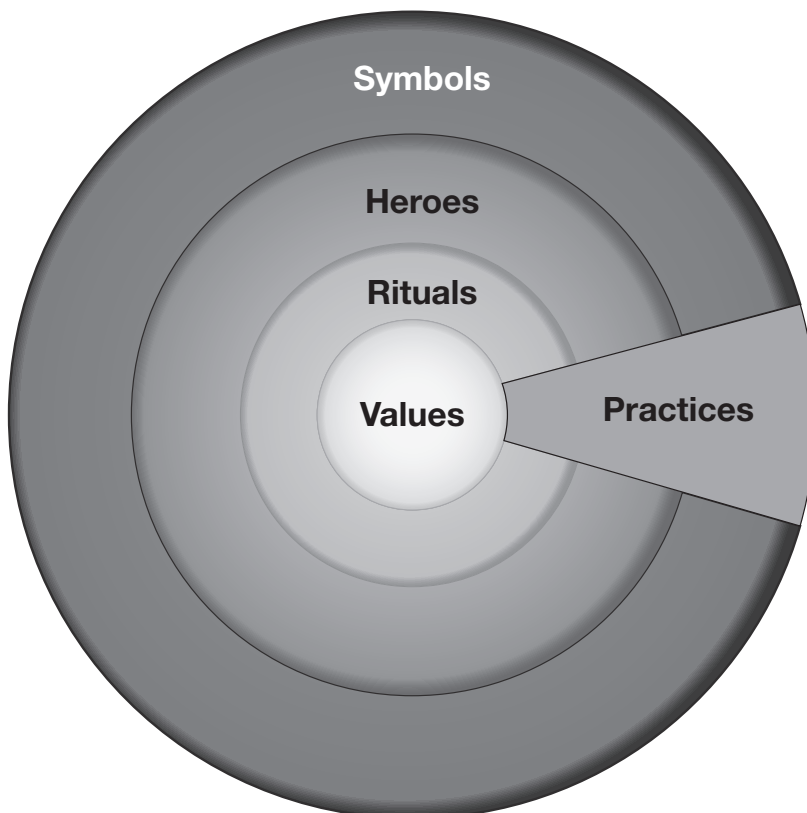


Figure 21.2 The Onion Model of culture

Source: Adapted from Hofstede, Hofstede, and Minkov (2010)

Table 21.2 Explanation of Hofstede’s Onion Model

Symbols	‘words, gestures, pictures, or objects that carry a particular <i>meaning</i> that is recognizable as such only by others who share the culture’.
Rituals	‘Socially essential’ activities within a culture, e.g. ‘discourse, the way language is used in text and talk, in daily interaction, and in communicating beliefs’
Heroes (Icons)	‘persons, alive or dead, real or imaginary, who possess certain characteristics that are highly prized in a culture and thus serve as models for behavior’
Values	‘broad tendencies to prefer certain states of affairs over others’ Examples: good vs evil, moral vs immoral.
Practices	the symbols, heroes, and rituals that are ‘visible to an outside observer; their culture meaning, however, is invisible and lies precisely and only in the way these practices are interpreted by the insiders’

Source: Adapted from Hofstede, Hofstede, and Minkov (2010)

Distinguishing Intercultural Competence (IC) 跨文化能力 From Intercultural Communicative Competence (ICC) 跨文化沟通能力

The term ‘intercultural communication’ was used in Edward T. Hall’s (1959) influential book, *The Silent Language*, and he is generally acknowledged as the founder of the field (Leeds-Hurwitz 1990). Byram (1997) defines IC as: ‘An ability to evaluate, critically and on the basis of explicit criteria, perspectives, practices, and products in one’s own and other cultures’. IC is especially important, because it starts with asking the learner to consider a situation in her/his own culture in a deeper, more reflective way before being introduced to the cultural issue in the target culture. As Liddicoat and Scarino note, ‘A main difference . . . between a cultural and an intercultural perspective is that a cultural perspective emphasizes the culture of the other and leaves that culture external to the learner, whereas an intercultural perspective emphasizes the learners’ own cultures as a fundamental part of engaging with a new culture’ (Liddicoat and Scarino 2013: 29). In the past several decades research on IC has proposed various models that can guide educators and learners toward developing deeper levels of cultural understanding of both the native and target cultures. This work is applicable to audiences beyond the K–16 environment, and is commonly found in workshops for professionals in medical settings and public services, in the corporate world, and in academic contexts.

Clearly it is beyond the scope of this chapter to discuss each model of IC and ICC. Still, it is worthwhile mentioning two often cited models to give readers examples of how varied these models are.

- I. Byram (1997) Model of Intercultural Competence (Byram, 1997; Spitzberg 2009:17). In this model (Table 21.3), which expects that students view themselves as explorers or ‘soujourners’, there are the following five key factors for identifying and assessing ICC:
- II. Deardorff (2006) Pyramid Model of Intercultural Competence and Process Model of Intercultural Competence (Spitzberg and Changnon 2009: 13 and 33).

Deardorff offered two models of ICC, the first is a pyramid, with a hierarchical mapping of how learners with grow toward learning appropriate ways of gaining cultural awareness. The second model is the Process Model of Intercultural Competence. Both models identify the same sets of goals: 1) **Desired Internal Outcomes** and 2) **Desired External Outcomes**. **Internally**,

Table 21.3 Byram's Intercultural Competence Model (1997)

1. Attitude	Ability to be open, curious, respectful, non-judgmental about target culture's behaviors, beliefs, etc. (tolerate ambiguity)
2. Knowledge	Cognizant of rules of cultural practices in one's own culture and in the target culture.
3. Skills of interpreting and relating	Ability to explain documents or events from other culture and relate it to documents or events from one's own culture.
4. Skills of discovery and interaction	Ability to learn new knowledge of culture and cultural practices and use previously learned knowledge, attitudes, skills in interactions across cultures.
5. Critical cultural awareness	Ability to evaluate critically based on explicit criteria, perspectives, practice, and products in one's own and other cultures.

Source: Adapted from Byram (1997)

the learner should show adaptability, flexibility, empathy, and **externally** the learner should demonstrate effective and appropriate behavior and communication based on knowledge, skills, and achieving internal outcomes.

Desired Internal Outcomes start with attitudes of **respect** (valuing other cultures, culture diversity), **openness** (to IC learning, withholding judgement), and **curiosity and discovery** (tolerating ambiguity and uncertainty).

The next stage involves **Knowledge and Comprehension** (e.g. cultural self-awareness, culture-specific information, sociolinguistics) on one hand, and **Skills** (ability to listen, observe, interpret, analyze, evaluate, relate) on the other.

Desired External Outcomes result in behavior and communication based on all stages that were gained previously.

Regarding Deardorff's Process Model, readers are urged to consult Blair (2017), 'Mapping intercultural competence: Aligning goals, outcomes, evidence, rubrics, and assessment,' in which this model has been disaggregated, with input from Fantini (2009) and the American Council on Education (2008). The well-designed tables here will engage teachers to thoughtfully guide learners through IC processes.

Other well-known models for considering IC are: Developmental Model of Intercultural Sensitivity (Bennett 1986), and the Intercultural Competencies Dimensions Model (Fantini 2009). Delving further into these and additional models of how teachers can guide students to reflect on their own cultural attitudes and assumptions so as to interact appropriately in the target culture is far beyond the reach of this chapter. In just the decade between 2003 and 2013, over 70 articles with the title IC were published (Arasaratnam 2014). Similar literature reviews on IC before and after this decade indicate the extent such research plus evaluations of various models of IC (Kitao 1985; Spitzberg and Changnon 2009: 7–44; Reid 2013: 44–53; Arasaratnam 2014; Arasaratnam-Smith 2017: 9–16; Gregersen-Hermans 2017: 72–73).

Discussions about how to integrate and assess foreign-language instruction within the ICC context have been going on for some time (Savignon 1985; Ware and Kramsch 2005), but recently scholarship on this connection has become more mainstream (Kearney 2016; Wagner, Perugini and Byram 2018). Another approach taken is to connect ICC with Critical Cultural Awareness (CCA), which can incorporate using intercultural situations that involve a conflict or a critical incident that is unresolved. Using the target language, students focus on culturally appropriate ways to seek a resolution (Nugent and Catalino 2015), available at <http://digitalcommons.unl.edu/cgi/viewcontent.cgi?article=1193&context=teachlearnf> acpub.

Becoming familiar with models of IC and ICC is a good investment in time for teachers of Chinese. Better understanding the stages of acquisition of ICC that students experience to improve cultural awareness and empathetic understanding of behaviors and attitudes valued in the target culture, will make it easier to set appropriate linguistic goals. A clear grasp of several ICC models and suggestions for ICC assessment will also enhance teachers' confidence when adapting curricular materials to include an ICC framework.

ICC poses an additional challenge, i.e. preparing students to interact effectively with people from the target culture in the target language. 'Competence in intercultural communication' is defined as 'the ability to take part effectively in a given social context by understanding what is being communicated and by employing appropriate language and behavior to convey an intended message' (www.govtilr.org/Skills/Competence.htm). Educators increasingly are thinking long term, since our current students, whatever their age or academic level, need to develop intercultural competence to better understand their peers, for study abroad experiences, and for life-long intercultural experiences as they assume careers that involve global environments.

Resources for Integrating ICC Into Teaching Chinese

Teachers of Chinese want students to approach culture through critical inquiry so as to understand nuanced explanations for differences and similarities among people with different cultural backgrounds. However, the reality of the demands on teachers in K-16 settings often precludes them from designing curricula that includes ICC.

For this reason, the remainder of this chapter presents resources which Chinese language teachers can consult when designing lessons, that emphasize cultural awareness and competence. There is no single formula that teachers can apply to a language lesson that will lead students to high levels of ICC. We encourage teachers to examine these resources and approaches when modifying or creating materials for their own students. The key element to remember is that the ICC framework should be designed as the **starting point** of the lesson, rather than something that is tacked onto the end. Given the critical importance for students to approach learning about a new topic through an intercultural lens, teachers need to develop their curricula in ways that reflect this priority. The key to conceptualizing the lesson structure is that the ICC framework offers a beginning and endpoint in the lesson, with the linguistic objectives integrated throughout.

An Overview of Resources for Integrating ICC Competence in Chinese Curricula

The past decade has shown dramatic increases in attention to Chinese pedagogy within K-16 environments. This has, in part, been a result of initiatives promoted through the ACTFL, Asia Society, Chinese Language Flagship Programs, Chinese Immersion Programs, Chinese Language Teachers Association (CLTA), College Board, Confucius Institutes, National Foreign Language Resource Centers, STARTALK, and other programs. The development and growth of Advanced Placement (AP) Chinese programs, including pre-AP and AP curricula, tests, and AP courses for teachers has had a tremendous impact on professionalizing the teaching of Mandarin. In addition to impacting K-12, AP Chinese is integral in articulating secondary Chinese programs with postsecondary student placement as well as offering bridging and assessment options for students in dual-language immersion programs (Bacon and Steele 2016).

The Example of AP Chinese in Connecting World Standards, With Curricular Requirements for Cultural Literacy/Cultural Competence

Main gains in targeting and achieving linguistic proficiency goals ICC in K-16 language programs have looked to the ACTFL World-Readiness Standards for Learning Languages, which focus on the Five Cs (Communication, Cultures, Connections, Comparisons, Communities), the Three Modes of Communication (Interpersonal, Interpretive, Presentational) and the Three Ps (Perspective, Practice, Products) as a starting point for a highly effective approach to teaching culture and language (Arens 2009; Phillips and Abbott 2011; Garrett-Rucks 2016). The five goal areas of the Standards link ‘communication and culture’ to ‘cultural competence’ so that learners can ‘participate in multilingual communities at home and around the world’ (www.ACTFL.org).

On the K-12 level, teachers have the added challenge of designing and implementing curricula that meet national and state standards for foreign-language instruction at specific levels. College/university language teaching should also take national standards into consideration and apply similar principles such as the use of backward design, integration of authentic materials, and the application of proficiency-based assessment that develop students’ linguistic and cultural competences.

Using the interaction of the 3Ps is one of the successful approaches often referenced. Below are some examples of just what these mean (**adapted from** [carla.umn.edu/ . . . / Practices_Products_Perspectives_Examples.pdf](http://carla.umn.edu/.../Practices_Products_Perspectives_Examples.pdf)):

Cultural Practices, Products, and Perspectives

Practices—patterns of social interactions and behaviors. Practices involve using products.

Products—the tangible or intangible constructions of a given culture. They reflect the culture’s perspectives.

Tangible products: ceramic teapots, works of calligraphy, silk clothing, literary works.

Intangible products: folktales, singing performances, funerary rituals.

Perspectives—philosophical doctrine, interpretations, beliefs, values, attitudes that underlie a society’s cultural practices and products. They represent a culture’s worldview.

Sometimes the interaction among the 3 Ps is depicted as follows:

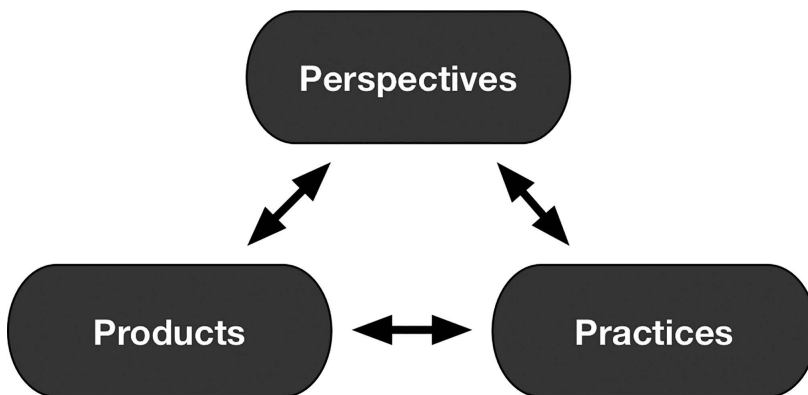


Figure 21.3 Interaction of the 3 Ps

This image demonstrates how these three components of culture are closely related. The 3Ps, and the ACTFL Standards are often critical in designing lessons that integrate culture and language throughout the curriculum.

1. The Center for Applied Linguistics CAL (3 Ps and World Standards) www.cal.org/what-we-do/projects/chinese-curriculum-development

CAL joined with the National K-12 Foreign Language Resource Center (NFLRC) at Iowa State University to create a model for articulated Chinese language instruction for grades K-5, and doing research based on this model. One result of this project is CAL 2018, the Chinese Curriculum Scope and Sequence, which includes specific focus on cross-cultural activities based on the 3Ps for grades K-2. Three draft units posted on this website focus on activities that students do in Chinese classrooms and in their homes with family and friends. These units, which have been systematically reviewed and edited by Chinese K-8 language consultants, offer excellent step-by-step ways to build curricular units with reference to setting goals for cultural literacy through determining enduring understandings, essential questions, and evidence-based learning. The materials for grade 2 are especially adaptable for older students, with reference to celebrating Chinese New Year, zodiac signs, etc.

2. 3Ps Cultural Framework, based on ACTFL guidelines and Standards; AP Chinese expectations for cultural competence

This model, referenced in the AP course guideline, is also frequently a part of foreign language teacher educational programs. In fact, many Chinese language textbooks are divided into lessons and units that focus on the same issues that are outlined in the AP courses.

The AP Chinese Language and Culture curriculum ‘interweaves language and culture learning’ within the Three Modes of Communication. As students are informed this course ‘helps you broaden your world view by comparing Chinese cultural products, practices, and perspectives with those of your own society and then use your growing cultural knowledge in real-life communication tasks’ (The College Board 2015. Available at <https://apstudent.collegeboard.org/apcourse/ap-chinese-language-and-culture/course-details>). Cultural topics in the AP curriculum include both Capital C or Objective Knowledge (e.g. ‘significant persons, products, and themes in Chinese history. . .’) and Little c or Subjective Knowledge (e.g. Chinese societal relationships, interactions with family members and broader interpersonal communications). See <https://apstudent.collegeboard.org/apcourse/ap-chinese-language-and-culture/course-details>.

3. 3Ps + inquiry-based teaching approach using instructional technology and National Standards (Dema and Moeller 2012)

Adopting an inquiry-based pedagogical approach that is grounded in a 3P cultural framework, gives students opportunities to make their own connections and comparison (Goals 3 and 4 of the Standards). Advocates of this approach note the advantages of students being actively involved in investigating both their own culture and the culture under study. Inquiry-based teaching guides students to adopt higher-order thinking that strengthens their critical thinking skills (Dema and Moeller 2012). Adding a systematic contextualized, student-centered component to teaching about culture also helps avoid pitfalls of stereotyping, which may occur when the focus is on learning products and practices only from bits of information in textbooks or as comments introduced by teachers. Systematically incorporating technology (such as podcasts,

blogs, and other digital resources) with inquiry-based teaching within the 3P framework creates 'a dynamic learning environment that promotes an understanding of the intersection of culture and language in all aspects of cultural understandings' (Dema and Moeller 2012: 87).

4. **Annenberg Learner**, (2004; 2017 www.learner.org/workshops/tfl/session_05/examine.html)

WGBH Boston, in association with ACTFL, developed a series of online teaching workshops. '*Rooted in Culture*', the fifth workshop, shows step-by-step instructions for how teachers can break down the 3Ps, connect them to the Standards, and develop lessons that will engage students (Annenberg 2017). An integral part of this module is a video of a roundtable discussion with experts, one of whom is Alvino Fantini, who has for some time stressed the necessity to research the intersections among language, culture, and world view (Fantini 1995) and, not surprisingly, has been on the forefront of integrating research in IC to ICC. Through a series of targeted questions, Fantini challenges teachers to look beyond textbooks to find resources that will lead to intercultural competencies for students and also for the teachers themselves. He also reminds teachers to avoid the tendency 'making the target culture seem exotic or strange' (Donato, Fantini et al. 2004 in Annenberg 2017).

This workshop offers teachers opportunities to learn firsthand about the challenges of integrating culture in foreign-language curricula. Ideally teachers of Chinese would join together in pairs or small groups to follow the stages of the lesson. This excellent online resource could also be used by individual teachers who want to teach about culture and develop material that would engage their students, but are not sure where to begin.

5. **The Center for Open Educational Resources and Language Learning (COERLL)** at the University of Texas at Austin (<http://coerll.utexas.edu/coerll/>).

As part of its Online Foreign Language Teaching Methods program, COERLL (Blyth et al. 2010) developed a module on best practices for foreign-language instruction at the secondary and postsecondary levels in teaching Culture (available at <https://coerll.utexas.edu/methods/modules/culture/>). Using short video clips, this program shows how cultural literacy goals can frame learners' comprehension of all texts, be they traditional textbook lessons, authentic writings, or even visual and audio media, and how teachers can guide students to related cultural Practices and Products to Perspectives.

6. **Asia Society Performance Assessment Shells (2018b)** (<https://asiasociety.org/education/performance-assessment-shells>)

Asia Society offers guidelines for intermediate to advanced language students to identify a global issue and follow 'a range of formative tasks and learning activities' plus 'a summative, performance assessment task' 'to succeed at real-world tasks requiring academic rigor, productive habits, and global awareness'. Although these instructional units are not focused specially on Chinese language learners, they could easily be modified or used as indicated for high-level learners in secondary or college/university Chinese programs, or secondary students in Chinese immersion programs. Since the emphasis in these programs is for learners to approach real-life tasks, the high-level of cultural engagement is embedded.

Asia Society (2018a) offers additional resources for educators to guide students toward broader intercultural awareness, such as What is Global Awareness? (<https://asiasociety.org/education/>)

what-global-competence), Assessing 21st-Century Skills and Competencies Around the World (<https://asiasociety.org/global-cities-education-network/assessing-21st-century-skills-and-competencies-around-world>), and the Power of Global Competence (<https://asiasociety.org/video/power-global-competence>). Another excellent resource is the repository of instructor videos geared toward Chinese teachers of students at Novice-Mid to Advanced-Low levels of proficiency (i.e. TEQ Instructional Videos for Chinese Language Teachers <https://asiasociety.org/china-learning-initiatives/teq-instructional-videos-chinese-language-teaching>).

7. Interagency Language Roundtable (ILR) Skill Level Descriptions for Competence in Intercultural Communication www.govtilr.org/Skills/Competence.htm

Another useful reference for teachers who are designing or redesigning curricular materials to include ICC is the ILR Descriptions for Competence in Intercultural Communication. As explained online, ‘Values, beliefs, traditions, customs, norms, rituals, symbols, taboos, deportment, etiquette, attire, and time concepts are some of the extralinguistic elements that typically shape the form and content of interactions. These elements are often the source of expectations regarding behavior, such as gestures, body language, physical distance between speakers, and deference due to status, age, and gender’ (ILR 2012)

The ILR scale, accepted in 1985, was based on the Foreign Service Interview (FSI), which was developed in the 1950 and 1960s by the US government as a way of standardizing the description of general language ability in speaking, reading, writing, and listening. By the mid-1980s the ILR scale had adopted the FSI’s basic descriptions of six levels of language ability (Clark 1988). The Skill Level Descriptions for Intercultural Communication, approved in 2012, includes six base levels, with 0+ as the only plus level. Ratings below level 3 are drawn from everyday situations and interactions, including voicemail, email, and social media. At level 3 the descriptions are within the domains of professional settings. Ratings at level 4 and above reflect achievement of ‘the full range of social, professional, and cultural interactions’ (ILR 2012). Various studies have compared the ILR and ACTFL scales of assessment, an issue that goes far beyond the scope of assessing culture (Magnan 1987; Dirgin 2014; Murphy and Evans-Romaine 2016: 248–249).

8. The 2017 National Council of State Supervisors for Languages (NCSSFL)—ACTFL Can-Do Statements for Intercultural Communication (guide:www.actfl.org/publications/guidelines-and-manuals/ncssf-actfl-can-do-statements)

The statements listed at this website, which are the result of a collaboration between the NCSSFL and ACTFL, involve setting clear targets for language learners, teachers who write and implement curricula, and stakeholders (e.g. language coordinators, school principals, department chairs), who are involved with matters like articulation, student placement, and program assessment. The original NCSSFL project for language learners’ self-assessment, undertaken in 2004, drew on *LinguaFolio*, adapted from the European Language Portfolio (ELP), that was aligned with the Common European Framework of Reference for Language (CEFR). Incidentally, through a different initiative, ACTFL developed ‘an empirically-based alignment between the *ACTFL Proficiency Guidelines* and the CEFR and the tests based on those frameworks’. Such an alignment between these two widely accepted systems for measuring learners’ levels of proficiency as they acquire other languages is significant on a global level. (This document is available at <https://www.actfl.org/publications/additional-resources/assigning-cefr-ratings-actfl-assessments>.) In 2013 NCSSFL and ACTFL created Can-Do Statements so students can reflect on and set goals for language learning processes either in *LinguaFolio* or as stand-alone self-assessments (Moeller and Yu 2015).

The 2017 Statements extend this Can-Do concept to Intercultural Communication by clarifying and supporting the Culture Standard in the World-Readiness Standards through exploring the relationships between Practices and Perspective and Product and Perspectives of the cultures studied. Teachers will find these statements extremely helpful when designing or modifying existing curriculum to include an ICC framework.

Below is an example of how the Can-Do Statements have been included in a curriculum map, by teachers in the secondary schools at the Mandarin Immersion Program at Portland Public Schools (PPS) (www.pps.net/Page/3009). The Planning Template used here is based on the PPS English Language Arts Unit; the readings for the lesson are several short essays and stories based on concepts of friendship in China. The Unit Description is ‘Examine the importance of friendship and explore challenges encountered in friendship through several fictional narrative and informational texts’, and several essential and enduring questions figure prominently at the beginning of the document. First introduced in the 1980s, the terms ‘essential’ and ‘enduring questions’ are key to effective curriculum mapping and design, and are especially important when dealing with cultural matters (Cushman 1989; Wiggins and McTighe 1998, 2006). These questions, sometimes referred to as ‘essential’ and ‘enduring understandings’, compel teachers to articulate their long-term learning and teaching objectives, whether within a weekly lesson, a textbook unit comprised of multiple lessons, a university-level course, or even an entire undergraduate major or graduate program. Often coupled with backward design, designing essential and enduring questions requires teachers to probe complex and nuanced topics so learners will need to think critically and not be satisfied with simplistic, superficial answers. Enduring questions/understanding are intended to outlast the learning of a particular section of a course. In fact, they should become part of the learner, who now has gained another tool that can be applied in analysis and evaluation of future questions. The applicability of this pedagogical approach when exploring intercultural issues and related communicative skills is apparent.

Curriculum Map Unit for Mandarin Immersion

Based on the ELA Grade 6~8 Curriculum Map Template

Table 21.4 Curriculum Map Unit for Mandarin Immersion, PPS

Name of Unit: 友情 (普通一上第三单元)

Pacing: Month-Month or # week & # Sessions
~1 Months

Enduring Understanding (examples) Essential Question(s) (examples)	1. 友情是每个人生活中不能缺少的。Friendship is essential to everybody's life. 2. 友情带给我们快乐和幸福，也帮助我们不断地成长。Friendship brings happiness to life, and it also helps us grow continuously. 1. 为什么友谊是生活中很重要的一部分？Why is friendship a very important part of life? 2. 友谊中最重要的是什么？What is the most important component in friendship? 3. 选朋友时，重要的标准有哪些？What are the important criteria for selecting friends？ 4. 在美国和中国交朋友有什么异同？How are making friends in the US and China similar or different?
---	--

(Continued)

Table 21.4 (Continued)

Name of Unit: 友情 (普通一上第三单元)

Pacing: Month-Month or # week & # Sessions

~1 Months

Learning Target(s)	5. 在美国和中国对友谊的期望有什么异同？How are the expectations for friendship in the US and China similar or different? 中国人和美国人对个人空间的看法/习惯有什么不同？What are the differences and similarities between Chinese and Americans' views towards personal space? 1. Read beyond skim and scan—intensive reading for details (appearances and behaviors). Students can apply extensive reading and intensive reading skills to gain deeper understanding of the texts. 2. Write beyond 'tell'—use 'show' to describe, use metaphors/similes. Students can use multisensory descriptions and metaphors/similes to detail a scene of feelings. 3. Listen—Comprehend cause and effect. Students can identify cause(s) and effect(s) related to a friendship scenario in a conversation or a TV program. 4. Speak—Students can discuss friendship-related issues and provide supported opinions on a claim. a. Small group discussions b. Socratic Seminars Unit Description Examine the importance of friendship and explore challenges encountered in friendship through several fictional narrative and informational texts.
----------------------------------	---

ACTFL Standards (2017 NCSSFL/ACTFL release) Summary * By proficiency level ——— Intermediate-Mid Level unless specified otherwise

Intercultural Communication:

1. In my own and other cultures, I can compare and contrast the expectations of friendship.
2. I can explain the expectations of friendship in the American culture to a Chinese peer.
3. I can give an example of an expectation of friendship in the Chinese culture to an American peer.

Interpretive Reading:

1. I can identify some major events in a story/major points in an event.

Interpretive Listening:

1. I can understand the causes and effects of events in a conversation or in news about friendship or when resolving an issue related to friendship.

Interpersonal Communication:

1. I can interact by sharing ideas and opinions about a situation involving friendship and suggest solutions using multiple simple sentences (IL) or multiple connected sentences (IM).

Presentational Writing:

1. I can interact by sharing ideas and opinions about a situation involving friendship and suggest solutions using multiple simple sentences (IL) or multiple connected sentences (IM).
2. I can describe a scene or experience with a friend by using multiple sentences (IL) or multiple connected sentences using words related to senses. (Show, not tell.)

Presentational Speaking:

1. I can present basic points and support my position on common issues such as the importance of friendship, or what are the most important aspects in a good friendship, etc.

Source: Used by permission

The next pages in this particular curricular map include language objectives for this particular lesson(s). These details include vocabulary, sentence patterns, grammar points, etc., in other words, this part of the map involves the aspects of lesson plans with which teachers are most familiar (which is why they are not included here). It is noteworthy that in this PPS example such information does not occur until quite late in the map; these items are the means by which the students will be able to complete their communicative objectives, but they are not the overall guiding portion of the lesson(s).

Concluding Comments

This chapter has given educators considerable information about how to understand and integrate Intercultural Communicative Competence in Chinese curricula. A variety of models have been discussed and important online resources shared with the goal of empowering teachers to inspire students to learn about their own culture and about Chinese cultures and be able to discuss comparisons and divergences they discover in ways that reflect critical thinking. After reading this chapter, teachers will be able to adapt existing materials or develop new cultural frameworks for materials that are mainly based on textbooks or authentic texts. These materials may come from textbooks such as *Integrated Chinese* or *China Link*, two popular series of textbooks that have added excellent cultural information in the most recent editions. All that teachers need modify is the organization of sections within a given lesson, so that the cultural aspect is highlighted rather than hidden, and linguistic exercises explicitly model communicative tasks that involve these cultural topics. For example, Lesson 14 in the fourth edition of *Integrated Chinese* includes Culture Notes, which provide information about how birthdays in China are celebrated and also about the broader topic of gift-giving practices. These Culture Notes also suggest that students compare these cultural practices with their own, which is one of the first steps in intercultural awareness. Reorganizing some of the specific language tasks to sustain the theme of these important cultural practices throughout the entire lesson by using the student's perspective will guide students to explore culture directly. Students could compare their experiences with a Chinese peer who could be identified through online exchanges or even through connections with Chinese-speaking communities within the US or Canada. If that option were not available, students could, with the instructor's assistance, create a fictitious Chinese peer whose cultural habits could be drawn from authentic videos or other texts. Electronic or cardboard models of this 'peer' could figure in class activities.

Taking advantage of some newly published graded readers (e.g. Cui Yonghua 2009) and free online resources (e.g. <http://chinesereadingpractice.com/>; <http://readchinese.nflc.org>; <https://readchineseonline.com>), teachers can develop lessons on topics that are relevant to students in China and America. Starting with essential and enduring questions, they will be better equipped to present contrasting cultural views within contextualized language activities. Furthermore, by adopting a structured approach to integrating ICC in language classes, teachers will ascertain how including formal and informal measures of assessment of ICC, including students' self-assessment, will strengthen their own 'pedagogical toolbox', while also engaging and motivating students.

Sources Consulted

English References

Adler, N. and Gundershon, A. (2007) *International Dimensions of Organizational Behavior*, 5th edn. Mason, OH: Thompson South-Western.

- American Council for the Teaching of Foreign Languages [ACTFL]. *Assigning CEFR Ratings to ACTFL Assessments*. Retrieved from www.actfl.org/sites/default/files/reports/Assigning_CEFR_Ratings_To_ACTFL_Assessments.pdf.
- American Council on Education. (2008). *Assessing International Learning Outcomes*. Washington, DC: American Council of Education.
- Annenberg Foundation. (2017) *The Teaching Foreign Languages K-12 Workshop*. The Annenberg Learner. Retrieved from www.learner.org/workshops/tfl/session_05/examine.html.
- Arasaratnam, L. A. (2014) 'Intercultural competence (2003–2013): A retrospective'. *Journal of Intercultural Communication* (35): 5. Retrieved from <http://immi.se/intercultural/nr35/arasaratnam.html>.
- Arasaratnam-Smith, L.A. (2017) 'Intercultural competence: An overview'. In D. Deardorff and L.A. Arasaratnam-Smith (eds.), *Intercultural Competence in Higher Education*, 7–18. London and NYC: Routledge.
- Arens, K. (2009) 'Teaching culture: The standards as an optic on curriculum development'. In V. M. Scott (ed.), *Principles and Practices of the Standards in College Foreign Language Education*, 160–180. AAUSC Issues in Language Program Direction. Boston, MA: Heinle/Cengage.
- Asia Society (2018a) *What Is Global Confidence?* Retrieved from <https://asiasociety.org/education/what-global-competence>.
- Asia Society (2018b) *Performance Assessment Shells*. Retrieved from <https://asiasociety.org/education/performance-assessment-shells>.
- Bacon, M. and Steele, J. L. (2016) *Effects of Dual-Language Immersion in Portland Public Schools*. Retrieved from https://ncela.ed.gov/files/uploads/2016/Michael_Bacon_and_Jennifer_Steele_Dual_Language_Education_Programs.pdf.
- Bennett, M. J. (1986) 'A developmental approach to training for intercultural sensitivity'. *International Journal of Intercultural Relations* 10(2): 179–196.
- Blair, S. G. (2017) 'Mapping intercultural competence: Aligning goals, outcomes, evidence, rubrics and assessment'. In D. K. Deardorff and L. A. Arasaratnam-Smith (eds.), *Intercultural Competence in Higher Education*, 110–123. Abingdon: Routledge.
- Blyth, C. et al. (2010) Foreign language teaching methods: Professional development modules for foreign language teachers. COERLL, The University of Texas at Austin. Retrieved from <https://coerll.utexas.edu/methods/>
- Brooks, N. (1968) 'Teaching culture in the foreign language classroom'. *Foreign Language Annals* 1(3): 204–217.
- Byram, M. (1997) *Teaching and Assessing Intercultural Communicative Competence*. Bristol, PA: Multilingual Matters Ltd.
- Center for Applied Linguistics. (2018) *Chinese Curriculum Development*. Retrieved from www.cal.org/what-we-do/projects/chinese-curriculum-development.
- Clark, J. L. D. (1988) 'Validation of a tape-mediated ACTFL/IRL-scale based test of Chinese speaking proficiency'. *Language Testing* 5(2): 187–205.
- The College Board. (2015) *AP Chinese Language and Culture: Course Details*. Retrieved from <https://apstudent.collegeboard.org/apcourse/ap-chinese-language-and-culture/course-details>.
- Cushman, K. (1989) 'Asking the essential questions: Curriculum development'. *Horace* 5(5). Retrieved from essentialschools.org/Horace-issues/asking-the-essential-questions-curriculum-development/
- Deardorff, D. K. (2006) Identification and assessment of intercultural competence as a student outcome of internationalization. *Journal of Studies in International Education*. 10(3), 241–266. doi:10.1177/1028315306287002.
- Deardorff, D. (2018) 'Process model of intercultural competence'. Retrieved from www.guninetwork.org/articles/process-model-intercultural-competence.
- Dema, O. and Moeller, A. K. (2012) 'Teaching culture in the 21st century language classroom'. *Faculty Publications: Department of Teaching, Learning and Teacher Education* 181. Retrieved from <http://digitalcommons.unl.edu/cgi/viewcontent.cgi?article=1176&context=teachlearnfacpub>.

- Dirgin, J. (2014) 'An Overview of the ILR skill level descriptors for proficiency test development and evaluation'. Annual Flagship Meeting, UCLA, Los Angeles, CA, May. Retrieved from https://thelanguageflagship.org/sites/default/files/Dirgin_Assessment%20Plenary.pdf.
- Fantini, A. E. (1995) 'Introduction—Language, culture and world view: Exploring the nexus'. *International Journal of Intercultural Relations* 19(2): 143–153.
- Fantini, A. E. (2009) 'Assessing intercultural competence: Issues and tools'. In D. K. Deardorff (ed.), *The Sage Handbook of Intercultural Competence*. Thousand Oaks, CA: Sage Publications.
- Garrett-Rucks, P. (2016) *Intercultural Competence in Instructed Language Learning: Bridging Theory and Practice*. Charlotte, NC: Information Age Publishing, Inc.
- Geertz, C. (1973) *The Interpretation of Cultures: Selected Essays*. New York: Basic Books.
- Gregersen-Hermans, J. (2017) 'Intercultural competence development in higher education'. In D. Deardorff and L. A. Arasaratnam-Smith (eds.), *Intercultural Competence in Higher Education*, 67–82. London and NYC: Routledge.
- Gudykunst, W. (1996) *Communication in Personal Relationships Across Cultures*. Thousand Oaks, CA: Sage Publications.
- Hall, E. T. (1959) *The Silent Language*. Garden City, NY: Doubleday Press.
- Hall, E. T. (1976) *Beyond Culture*. Garden City, NY: Anchor Press.
- Hammerly, H. (1982) *Synthesis in Second Language Teaching*. Blaine, WA: Second Language Publications.
- Helal, F. (2013) 'Discourse and intercultural academic rhetoric'. *Open Journal of Modern Linguistics* 03(02): 149–156.
- Hinds, J. (1987) 'Reader versus writer responsibility'. In U. Connor and R. Kaplan (eds.), *Writing Across Languages: Analysis of L2 Written Text*. Reading, MA: Addison-Wesley.
- Hofstede, G. (1997) *Cultures and Organizations: Software of the Mind*. London: McGraw-Hill.
- Hofstede, G., Hofstede, G. J. and Minkov, M. (2010) *Cultures and Organization: Software of the Mind*. New York: McGraw Hill.
- Interagency Language Roundtable. (2012) *Interagency Language Roundtable Skill Level Descriptions for Competence in Intercultural Communication*. Retrieved from www.govtirl.org/Skills/Competence.htm.
- Ioppolo, S. (2014) *Talking Culture Pt 3 the Iceberg*. Mondiale Learning and Development. Retrieved from www.youtube.com/watch?v=w-l-WCHIYBY.
- Kearney, E. (2016). *Intercultural Learning in Modern Language Education: Expanding Meaning-Making Potentials*. Multilingual Matters, UK.
- Kitao, K. (1985) 'A brief history of the study of intercultural communication in the United States'. Retrieved from <https://eric.ed.gov/?id=ED278212>.
- Kramsch, C. (1993) *Context and Culture in Language Teaching*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Kramsch, C. (2009) *The Multilingual Subject*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Kramsch, C. (2014) 'Teaching foreign languages in an era of globalization: Introduction'. *The Modern Language Journal* 98(1): 96–311.
- Kroeber, A. L. and Kluckhohn, C. (1952) *Culture: A Critical Review of Concepts and Definitions*. New York, NY: Vintage Publishers.
- Leeds-Hurwitz, W. (1990) 'Notes in the history of intercultural communication: The Foreign Service Institute and the mandate for intercultural training'. *Quarterly Journal of Speech* 76(3): 262–281.
- Legge, James (1815–1897), tr. (1879) *The Hsiao King of Classic of Filial Piety*. Oxford: The Clarendon Press.
- Liddicoat, A. J. and Scarino, A. (2013) *Intercultural Language Teaching and Learning*. Chichester: Wiley-Blackwell.
- Limbu, M., McCool, M., and Zeng, X. (2013) 'Writing across cultures: Understanding and teaching writer responsibility and reader responsibility writing'. *Journal of Global Literacies, Technologies, and Emerging Pedagogies* 1(2): 56–70.
- Magnan, S. S. (1987) 'Rater reliability of the ACTFL oral proficiency interview'. *The Canadian Modern Language Review* 43(2): 267–279.
- McCarthy, M. and Carter, R. (1994) *Language as Discourse: Perspectives for Language Teaching*. London: Longman.
- Meyer, E. (2014) *The Culture Map: Breaking Through the Invisible Boundaries of Global Business*. NYC, New York: Public Affairs.

- Moeller, A. J. and Yu, F. (2015) 'NCSSFL-ACTFL Can-Do statements: An effective tool for improving language learning within and outside the classroom'. *Dimension* 50–69. Retrieved from <https://eric.ed.gov/?id=EJ1080253>.
- Linares, S.M. (2016) 'Othering: Towards a critical cultural awareness in the language classroom'. *HOW* 23(1): 129–146. <http://dx.doi.org/10.19183/how.23.1.157>.
- Murphy, D. and Evans-Romaine, K. (eds.) (2016) *Exploring the US Language Flagship Program: Professional Competence in a Second Language by Graduation*. Bristol, UK: Multilingual Matters.
- Neuliep, J. W. (2018). *Intercultural Communication: A Contextual Approach*, 7th ed. Thousand Oaks, CA: Sage Publications, Ltd.
- Nugent, K. and Catalino, T. (2015) 'Critical cultural awareness in the foreign language classroom'. *Faculty Publications: Department of Teaching, Learning, and Teacher Education. NECTFL Review* 75(2015): 15–30. Retrieved from <http://digitalcommons.unl.edu/cgi/viewcontent.cgi?article=1193&context=teachlearnfacpub>.
- Omaggio-Hadley, A. (2001) *Teaching Language in Context*, 3rd ed. Boston: Heinle & Heinle.
- Paige, R. M., Jorstad, H., Siaya, L., Klein, F., and Colby, J. (2003) 'Culture learning in language education: A review of the literature'. In D. L. Lange and R. M. Paige (eds.), *Culture as the Core: Perspectives on Culture in Second Language Learning*, 173–236. Charlotte NC: Information Age Publishing, Inc.
- Phillips, J.K. and Abbott, M. (2011) 'A decade of foreign language standards: Impact, influence, and future directions.' Retrieved from www.actfl.org/publications/all/world-readiness-standards-learning-languages/standards-summary.
- Qin, X. (2017) *Understanding Intercultural Misunderstandings Between Chinese and American Cultures: Applying the Performed-Culture Approach*. Beijing: Waiyujiaoxue yu yanjiu chubanshe.
- Reid, E. (2013) 'Models of intercultural competences in practice'. *International Journal of Language and Linguistics* 1(2): 44–53.
- Savignon, S. J. (1985) 'Evaluation of communicative competence: The ACTFL provisional proficiency guidelines'. *The Canadian Modern Language Review* 41(6): 1000–1007.
- Scollon, R. and Scollon, S. (1995) *Intercultural Communication*. Oxford: Blackwell Publishers.
- Spitzberg, B. H. and Changnon, G. (2009) 'Conceptualizing intercultural competence'. In D. K. Deardorff (ed.), *The Sage Handbook of Intercultural Competence*, 2–52. Los Angeles, CA: Sage Publications.
- Trompenaars, A. and Hampden-Turner, C. (1997) *Riding the Waves of Culture: Understanding Diversity in Global Business*, 2nd edn. New York: McGraw-Hill.
- Wagner, M., Perugini, D. C., and Byram, M. (2018). *Teaching Intercultural Competence Across the Age Range: From Theory to Practice*. Multilingual Matters, UK.
- Walker, G. (ed.) (2010) *The Pedagogy of Performing Another Culture*. Columbus, OH: National East Asian Resource Center, Ohio State University.
- Ware, P. and Kramsch, C. (2005) 'Toward an intercultural stance: Teaching German and English through telecollaboration'. *Modern Language Journal* 89(2): 190–205.
- Wierzbicka, A. (1979) Ethno-syntax and the philosophy of grammar. *Studies in Language. International Journal sponsored by the Foundation "Foundations of Language"* 3(3): 313–383. doi: 10.1075/sl.3.3.03wie
- Wiggins, G. P. and McTighe, J. (1998). *Understanding by Design*. Alexandria, VA: Association for Supervision and Curriculum Development.
- Wiggins, G. J. and McTighe, J. (2006) *Understanding by Design: Expanded Second Edition*. Upper-Saddle River, NJ: Pearson.
- Würtz, E. (2006) 'Intercultural communication on web sites: A cross-cultural analysis of web sites from high-context cultures and low-context cultures'. *Journal of Computer-Mediated Communication* 11: 274–299.
- Xue, L. and Meng, M. (2007) 'A cross-cultural characterization of Chinese and English written discourse'. *International Communication Studies* 16(3): 90–98.

Chinese References

- Cui, Yonghua 崔永华 (ed.). (2009) *Chinese People Like to Speak the Truth—Graded Reader Level 2 (1000 Vocabulary)* 中国人有趣的实话实说. Beijing: Beijing Language and Culture University Press.
- Li, Xueqin 李學勤, (ed.) (1999) *Xiaojing zhushu 孝經注疏* (1999) in *Shisanjing zhushu* 十三經注疏. Beijing: Beijing daxue chubanshe.
- Ma, Zhiyuan 馬致遠 (ca. 1250–1324). ‘Handandao xingwu huangliangmeng’ 邯鄲道省悟黃粱夢 (On the handan route, awakening from a dream while millet cooks). In 元曲選 (*Selection of Yuan Dynasty Operas*). Retrieved from www.booksloverhk.com/chi_lit_/photo/45/45/_1.htm.
- Yang, Bojun 楊伯峻 (1901–1992) (ed.) (1995) *春秋左傳注修訂本 (Annotations to the Zuo Commentary to the Spring and Autumn Annals: A Revised Edition)*. Beijing: Zhonghua shuju.

Teaching Chinese Through Authentic Audio-Visual Media Materials

Liling Huang and Amber Navarre

Introduction

Authentic materials, defined as materials intended for native speakers (Martinez 2002) to fulfill some social purpose in the target language community (Peacock 1997), are widely adopted in foreign-language classrooms to motivate learners, provide realistic language input, and raise cultural awareness. One of the major sources of such materials is mass media, particularly digitized ones, given the ease of access. In addition to traditionally available mass media (TV shows, movies, newspapers, and magazines) that have long served as language learning materials, newly emerging media (e.g. podcasts, blogs, vlogs, news feeds, and self-media) have brought new opportunities to the learning and teaching of Chinese as a foreign language (CFL).

Consensus has not been reached in terms of categorization of mass media. Some differentiate them by their time of emergence (i.e. traditional vs. 'new age'); some differentiate them by their presentation modes (i.e. print, broadcast, and internet); some differentiate them by the degree of active audience participation (i.e. interactive vs. non-interactive). For the purpose of language learning, we divide mass media based on the form of language input (spoken vs. written text) and focus on mass media that contain audio-visual content. Materials from these media provide abundant spoken input and cultural examples in authentic contexts and thus are invaluable to linguistic and cultural acquisition in foreign-language classrooms. In this chapter, we will first provide a rationale for the use of authentic audio-visual (AV) materials, followed by an introduction of different types of such materials. An overview of three different models using authentic AV materials in CFL classes, as well as the key factors to consider while using them, will then be discussed. In each model, we will provide examples of curricular designs used in real CFL classrooms to demonstrate the utilization of these authentic materials.

A Rationale for Using Authentic AV Materials in CFL Education

The benefits of using authentic AV materials for language learning are multifaceted. As early as the end of the nineteenth century, Sweet (1899) criticized learning via artificial, contrived materials as causing 'incessant repetition of certain grammatical constructions, certain elements of the vocabulary, certain combinations of words to the almost total exclusion of others which

are equally, or perhaps even more, essential' (p. 177) and promoted the use of more 'natural' texts. The immersive, holistic experience with realistic, 'natural' use of language in contexts is exactly what authentic materials have to offer. Such materials expose learners to a broader range of linguistic functions and rich cultural products, practices, and perspectives, which prepares learners for communication in real-life situations.

The differences between authentic and artificial materials are not just qualitative but often-times quantitative as well, particularly in the case of mass media materials, which are often available in the form of lengthier connected discourses. Therefore, successful incorporation of authentic mass media materials into the curriculum may tremendously increase learners' exposure to the target language, which is particularly important for CFL learning in overseas, non-Chinese speaking environments.

In recent years, more CFL teachers have adopted a content-driven approach to language instruction, which allows them to more closely address the needs of CFL learners with higher levels of proficiency by familiarizing them with linguistic forms and cultural norms specific to certain subject domains (e.g. business, engineering, academic, entertainment, or journalism). Mass media materials have become an invaluable resource for this approach given the wide range of topics and content they cover.

Authentic AV materials have yet another advantage compared to print media materials, which is their multimodality. As supported by Mayor's (2001) theory of multimedia learning, learning through multimodal media materials leads to positive learning outcomes because they deliver contents through multiple channels. Authentic AV media provide both audio and visual input and thereby effectively accommodate learners with different preferred learning styles. AV materials are also often perceived as interesting and motivating by learners and thus may help develop a positive learning atmosphere while reducing learning anxiety. (Melvin and Stout 1987)

In order to harness the learning benefits from using AV materials, CFL teachers need to make decisions as to *what* among the enormous amount of raw materials to select for their learners, and *how* they may effectively incorporate them in their designed learning experiences. In the next sections, we will address these questions by exploring different types of authentic AV materials in light of their pedagogical potentials, and the common CFL curricular models using these materials.

Types of Authentic AV Materials

Fictional Drama

The term 'fictional drama' is used broadly to include different formats of authentic AV materials, such as films and TV productions of various genres (e.g. sitcom, sci-fi, horror, fantasy, and 'drama' as a genre—the dramatic presentations of serious stories on screen) and cartoons. A shared characteristic of these media materials is that the dialogue is performed by actors (or animated figures and voice actors in the case of cartoons) impersonating characters in simulated life situations. Although the scenes are scripted and acted out, the language used in such media has to *pass* as authentic and natural for them to be accepted by the targeted native-speaking audience. Therefore, using fictional drama in CFL classrooms may expose learners to the natural flow of speech, context-appropriate verbal and non-verbal expressions, and embedded cultural expectations. In addition, fictional drama may offer ample opportunities for learners to explore language use in situations that tend to be underrepresented in traditional textbooks, such as conflicts, or any occasions associated with negative emotions (e.g. sorrow, anger, hate, and jealousy).

Many teachers choose to use fictional drama that:

1. presents cross-cultural communication and/or conflicts: Well-known examples include earlier works of Ang Lee: 推手 (*Pushing Hands*) (1991), 喜宴 (*The Wedding Banquet*) (1993) and 饮食男女 (*Eat Drink Man Woman*) (1994), Jiangtao Qu's 孙子从美国来 (*Grandson from America*) (2012) and Gang Chen's 洋妞来我家 (*When a Peking Family Meets Aupair*) (2014);
2. reflects traditional Chinese culture and values: Examples include Peking Opera in 霸王别姬 (*Farewell My Concubine*) (Kaige, 1993), the concept of 'face' in Chinese society in 面子 (*Saving Face*) (Wu 2014) and the thoughts of Confucius in 孔子 (Confucius) (Hu, 2010);
3. depicts modern life and issues in Chinese society: 家有儿女 (*Home with Kids*) (Hong, 2004–2007), for instance, is one of the classic TV comedies that has been adapted to a Chinese textbook *A Multi-skill Chinese Course—Home with Kids* (Liu and Deng 2009). Also discussing modern family matters are 虎妈猫爸 (*Tiger Mom*) (Yao, 2015) and 小别离 (*A Love for Separation*) (Wang, 2015). 蜗居 (*Dwelling Narrowness*) (Teng, 2009) presents housing problems associated with urbanization of big cities in China, and 人民的名义 (*In the Name of People*) (Lu, 2017) addresses the issue of corruption in China;
4. have backgrounds in specific professional settings: Such media adopt different professional settings (e.g. hospitals, shops, schools, legal offices or government units) with visible organizational structures, relationships, and procedures (Sherman 2003). They provide input of domain-specific language and knowledge, which may serve particularly well for teaching and learning Chinese for specific purposes, such as 离婚律师 (*Divorce Lawyers*) (Yang, 2014) for Legal Chinese and 外科医生 (*Surgeons*) (Lee, 2016) for Medical Chinese.

Variety Shows

Although TV variety shows may take many formats including musical performances and magic shows, language teachers tend to make use of those that provide more spoken language input, such as talk shows, game shows, celebrity interviews, and reality shows. The hosts and guests in such variety shows often represent themselves rather than characters impersonated by actors. Although their interactions are still guided by a rundown, the actual language exchange tends not to be scripted, especially in interviews and reality shows. The language is thus 'imperfect' yet real, with false starts, fillers, ellipsis, and self-corrections and could serve as even more realistic language samples than fictional dramas. Some variety shows cover a wide range of topics that may provide a window to Chinese society, such as 锵锵三人行 (*Behind the Headlines with Dou Wentao*) (Dou, 1998–2014) and 奇葩说 (*U Can U Bibi*) (Ma, 2014–2018), and some reflect hit topics in pop culture, such as 康熙来了 (*Kangxi Coming*) (Chan, 2004–2016) and 天天向上 (*Day Day Up*) (Shen, 2008–present).

Some variety shows feature cross-cultural views of modern life in Chinese-speaking communities through the lens of foreigners who currently live there, such as 世界青年说 (*A Bright World*) (Zhu, 2015–2017), 非正式会谈 (*Informal Talks*) (Mao and Zhao, 2015–present) and 二分之一强 (*Half and Half*) (Liu, Liao, Yang and Zheng, 2014–present). These shows may expose learners to the firsthand lived experiences of other Chinese learners in the target culture. It may also motivate learners seeing the success of fluent CFL speakers on the screen.

Documentaries

Documentaries are about reality and real people (Nichols 2017). They have mixed types of discourse samples: Interactive language can be found in the interviews while the voice-over

Table 22.1 Examples of commonly used documentaries for CFL learning

Title	Topics
舌尖上的中国 (<i>A Bite of China</i>) (Chen, 2012–2018)	Food culture, customs
航拍中国 (<i>Aerial China</i>) (Yu, 2017)	Tourism, geography
互联网时代 (<i>The Internet Age</i>) (Shi and Sun, 2014)	Internet, big data
请投我一票 (<i>Please Vote For Me</i>) (Chen, 2007)	Democracy, primary education
垃圾围城 (<i>Beijing Besieged by Waste</i>) (Wang, 2010)	Environment, waste issues
高三 (<i>Senior Year</i>) (Zhou, 2005)	Education equality, college entrance exam

narratives and commentaries tend to be scripted in more formal and standard Mandarin and oftentimes reflect a mixture of persuasive, narrative, and expository language. Highlighting such shifts and contrasts in speaking styles may help more advanced learners to establish awareness and sensitivity to varied registers of the language.

The depth of inquiry is another big advantage of using documentaries as learning materials, which aligns particularly well with the theme- or project-based curriculum. In-depth discussions, comparisons, and debates are common activities following the viewing of (part of) a documentary. Table 22.1 provides several examples of commonly used documentaries and related topics that may be explored in CFL classrooms.

News Reports

News in Chinese provides learners a window to the current reality of Chinese society. Similar to documentaries, news videos often contain two types of registers: the formal, official news narration, and the less formal conversations often found in recorded events and interviews with witnesses. The different discursive styles may serve as input for analysis and comparison. Being familiar with the news genre also helps advanced learners to explore information independently, as news indeed is one of the most common sources for one to connect to the global and local events.

Vocabulary, sentence structures, and rhetoric in news narratives and commentaries tend to adopt formal register and display features of public speaking. Using news videos may help learners acquire these linguistic devices in public speaking. In addition, as standard Mandarin pronunciation is often preferred in CFL programs, news reports may provide useful samples for learners to model.

News channels in Chinese are abundantly available and can be easily accessed via the internet. Some of the most influential ones include the predominant state-owned television broadcaster in China—中国中央电视台新闻频道 *CCTV News*, the satellite TV network in Taiwan—东森新闻 *EBC News*, and the Hong Kong based non-propaganda TV station—凤凰卫视新闻 *Phoenix TV News*. It is worth mentioning that there are also Chinese news channels that serve overseas Chinese-speaking communities, such as the United States-based Chinese TV network—美国中文电视 *Sino Vision*, and the Chinese channel of Deutsche Welle 德国之声中文频道 in Germany.

Self-Produced Video Broadcasts

‘Self-produced video broadcasts’ is used here as a broad term for the newly emerging individualized video content production enabled by video-streaming services and digital recording

technology that is now available to anyone with computers or mobile devices. The most widely known producers of such broadcasts are YouTubers and vloggers, who frequently post their personalized videos to reach a wide audience on YouTube or their vlogs (video-blogs). Although in China neither YouTube nor vlogs are as popular as in Western countries, a number of China-based video-streaming services have been established and gained fast and vast popularity.

The language used in such self-produced video broadcasts tends to be casual and personal. Although most video hosts deliver their content as a talking head in the fashion of a monologue, they aim to create a friendly and relatable atmosphere by talking directly to the audience as an assumed conversation partner. Many hosting venues give the option for the audience to respond to the host by clicking '(dis)likes', commenting, or even sending virtual gifts. If the broadcast is live (直播), the communication may be even more interactive and in a sense 'conversational', in that the host often reads the comments of the audience in the show and responds directly to them.

The social element of self-produced video broadcasts is very unique compared to other authentic AV materials. The interaction is not even limited to the host and their audience, but also occurs among the audience themselves. Taking one of the most popular China-based video-streaming site, Bilibili (哔哩哔哩) for example, the viewers not only click '(dis)likes', leave comments, and reply to others' comments, they can also insert personal comments in an pop-up 'bullet screen' (弹幕) to simultaneously display with the content. The host and their audience, suitably called their 'followers', often get to know one another and develop a sustainable community of limited yet frequent communication.

As an observant or even a participant in such communication, CFL learners may gain an understanding of this unique form of online interaction as part of their digital literacy. From a cultural standpoint, learners may learn not only the culture of current web users in Chinese target language communities but also the dialogue between multifaceted subcultures each broadcast host and viewer represent. From a linguistic perspective, the speech in such broadcasts tends to be highly informal and colloquial; it may broaden the types of input learners receive, to include more slang words, buzzwords, and internet expressions. Another advantage of using self-produced video broadcasts in CFL classrooms is that these videos are often bite-sized clips that are easy to digest for most learners' attention spans. One caution to keep in mind, however, is that some content may not be age-appropriate for specific learner groups. Although there are many informative and culturally rich video broadcasts, some of the hosts may use extreme methods (e.g. revealing clothes or dangerous pranks) to attract attention.

Video broadcasts may be found on streaming websites such as YouTube or Bilibili (哔哩哔哩), social media such as Facebook, WeChat (微信) or Weibo (微博), as well as mobile apps such as Tiktok/Douyin (抖音) or Huoshan (火山). In addition to a wide collection of video broadcasts by Chinese native speakers, some highly competent CFL speakers also host their video channels such as YouTubers 阿福 (Thomas Afu) and 郝毅博 (Ben Hedges). These CFL speakers' videos may help current learners to develop both competence and confidence in learning and using Chinese and provide invaluable cross-cultural observations and perspectives as global citizens.

TV/Web Commercials

TV or web video commercials may also serve as valuable resources for CFL materials given their authenticity, creativity, and brevity. Despite being short, commercial videos tend to have rich bearings of cultural values, and the slogans used in commercials are a unique form of creative use of the target language.

Commercial videos may be used singularly as individual linguistic or cultural samples or grouped for in-depth comparative analyses. The comparison and contrast may be drawn:

1) from different time periods: Since commercial videos tend to deliver messages catering to the current linguistic and cultural preferences, a comparison of commercials of the same or similar products across different periods may land on insights over linguistic and cultural changes over time (e.g. the image of a successful businessperson in Chinese culture 20 years ago versus now).

2) across different cultures: commodities of global consumptions (e.g. cars, cosmetics, or sportswear) tend to run advertisements with localized content in order to appeal to the customers in the regional markets. A juxtaposed inspection of commercials of the same product in different language communities may thus present a great opportunity for cross-cultural comparisons and discussions.

Models for Using Authentic AV Media in CFL Classes

Three models for using authentic AV materials in CFL classes will be discussed in this section:

1) using AV materials to demonstrate language functions, 2) using AV materials as the primary or supplementary source of input, and 3) using AV materials to solicit language output. Each model is accompanied by an example of curricular design that demonstrates its use in actual CFL classrooms.

Using Authentic AV Materials to Demonstrate Language Functions

Language function is a purpose a speaker wishes to achieve with language (Brown 2000), such as giving information, making requests, refusing, expressing wishes, summarizing, and so on. Pragmatic competence, namely the ability of knowing how-to-say-what-to-whom, is crucial for performing language functions successfully (Bardovi-Harlig 2013), which requires an understanding of the intention of the conversation partner and the sociocultural norms that govern the function, in addition to the linguistic forms per se. Empirical studies have reported the effectiveness of employing authentic videos in teaching pragmatics (Washburn 2001). From the video clips, learners 1) learn language forms and conversation sequences that take place in natural exchanges, 2) see paralinguistic cues, such as facial expressions and gestures, 3) hear their intonations and emotion-impacted voices, and 4) observe the impact of social variables (e.g. social status, age, familiarity, etc.) on the native speakers' discursive choices.

To demonstrate a certain language function, the length of the video clips a teacher selects to show tends to be quite short, a few minutes or even seconds, to focus on one specific set of conversational sequences. The following lesson example will illustrate how such materials may be used to enhance the acquisition of pragmatic competence in a CFL classroom.

Example

Coauthor Huang of this chapter designed this lesson for intermediate-level CFL learners to learn common compliment response strategies: accepting, evading, and rejecting. Four video clips of conversations between native speakers are adopted to further learners' understanding of compliment response in this lesson unit (Table 22.2). Among the four video clips, two were drawn from authentic TV drama: 虎妈猫爸 (*Tiger Mother*) (Yao, 2015) and 恶魔少爷别吻我 (*Don't Kiss Me, Master Devil*) (Shang, 2017), one from an educational sitcom series designed for Chinese learners: 快乐汉语: 书法爱好者 (*Happy Chinese: Calligraphy Lovers*) (Zhang and

Table 22.2 Authentic video clips

Category	Names of the video clips	Expression	Compliment response strategy
Scripted conversation	Video 1: TV drama clip 虎妈猫爸 (<i>Tiger Mother</i>) 女人: 阿姨, 你身材保持得特别好! (<i>Young lady: Auntie, you keep in good shape!</i>) 阿姨: 不会吧? (<i>Auntie: Really? No way.</i>) 女人: 真的! (<i>Young lady: Of course, you are.</i>)	不会吧? (<i>Really? No way.</i>)	Rejecting
	Video 2: TV drama clip 恶魔少爷别吻我 (<i>Don't Kiss Me, Master Devil</i>) 老师: 以后有你这个设计天才的加入, 我相信对我们学校的艺术宣传会有很大的好处的。 (<i>Teacher: You are a design genius. I believe it will be of great benefit to our school's art propaganda after you join us.</i>) 学生: 哪有, 马老师你太客气了。 (<i>Student: No, Mr Ma, you are too kind.</i>)	哪有? (No.) 你太客气了。 (<i>You are too kind/polite.</i>)	Rejecting, Evading
	Video 3: Pedagogical Sitcom clip 书法爱好者 (<i>Calligraphy Lovers</i>) 苏珊: 太好了! 完美! (<i>Susan: Great! Perfect!</i>) 舅舅: 过奖了! Uncle: I am flattered.	过奖了。 (<i>I am flattered.</i>)	Rejecting
Elicited conversation	Video 4: Unscripted and elicited dialogues between native speakers through role-plays 女一: 王睿, 你今天鞋子好好看哦! (<i>Female 1: Wang Rui, the shoes you are wearing today are so beautiful!</i>) 女二: 真的吗? 谢谢! (<i>Really? Thank you!</i>)	真的吗? (<i>Really?</i>) 谢谢! (<i>Thank you!</i>)	Evading, Acceptance

Zhang, 2009), and one from an elicited conversation that the teacher recorded between native speakers. Table 22.2 provides the scripts of the clips selected from each video.

The lesson was executed in four stages as follows:

Stage 1 Pre-viewing

1. Learners receive instruction explaining the concept of compliment response by watching an animated video *Responding to Compliments* from Practical Chinese (Huang 2017).
2. The teacher introduces different compliment response strategies and expressions as well as the cultural norms related to them explicitly.
3. Learners review complement response expressions and put them into different categories (Table 22.3).

Stage 2 During viewing

1. Learners watch the video clips and work in pairs to complete the worksheet (Table 22.4).

Stage 3 Post-viewing

1. The teacher checks the answers with the learners.
2. Learners conduct role-play based on the scenarios in Table 22.5.

Stage 4: Evaluation and feedback

1. Learners perform their conversations, and the teacher provides feedback.
2. Learners complete the integrated exercise on Practical Chinese at home, compare their answers with the native speakers' answers provided on the website.

Table 22.3 Handout for the learning of compliment response expressions

谢谢！/您客气了！/是吗？/不会吧？/哪有！/跟你比起来，还差得远！/过奖了！/哪里哪里！

Strategies	Expressions
Accepting	
Evading	
Rejecting	

Table 22.4 Worksheet for while-viewing activity

看视频，回答问题。Watch the videos and answer questions.

1. 视频里的人物关系是什么？他们在哪儿？
What are the relationships of the conversation partners in the videos? Where are they?
2. 他们怎么回应赞美？说了什么？使用了什么策略？为什么？
How did they respond to compliments? What did they say? What strategies did they use and why?

Table 22.5 Scenarios for the role-playing activities

Scenario 1: 你爸爸的中国朋友在你家做客，他和你用中文聊天以后，夸你的中文说得非常好。
Your father's Chinese friend is visiting your family in your house. After chatting with you in Chinese, he compliments you on your oral Chinese.

Scenario 2: 你最近换了新的发型。你的朋友看见后说：“你的新发型真好看啊。”
You changed your hairstyle recently. Your friend said, 'Your new hairstyle looks great'.

Scenario 3: 同公司的前辈夸赞你最近的项目完成得很好。
The senior staff in your company praised you for the project you completed.

The design of this lesson is based on the insight of input and noticing hypotheses. As Schmidt (2001) noted, in order to acquire a second language feature, learners must notice the target features in the input. This lesson is designed to facilitate the noticing of the compliment response form and the socio-pragmatic knowledge. It adopts an explicit approach to introduce various compliment responses and cultural norms and then enhances the input via authentic video clips while directing learners' attentions to socio-pragmatic features. Dialogues in the videos are analyzed in both the linguistic and cultural aspects, followed by learners' demonstration of the learned knowledge and skill through a productive task—role-play. In the next section, we offer suggestions for consideration when designing a video-based lesson to demonstrate language functions.

Suggestions for Using Authentic AV Materials to Demonstrate Language Functions

The central concern of a video-based lesson is the same as any lesson reflecting best practices in foreign-language instruction: the learners. The selection of mass media materials may not be successful without identifying the targeted language functions that are relevant to learners' needs and proficiency levels. Teachers may turn to the American Council on the Teaching of Foreign Languages for general guidelines (Swender, Conrad and Vicars 2012) as to what functions to develop to advance learners for the next level of proficiency. As many teachers still use textbooks as the main learning materials, they may also review the key language functions covered in the textbook and find authentic video clips to support learning.

Once the targeted language function is identified, the next step is to collect and select appropriate video clips. In general, language functions embedded in narratives are more likely to be found in news reports and documentaries, while dialogical language functions are abundant in fictional drama or variety shows.

Several factors should be considered during the process of reviewing and selecting appropriate video clips:

1. **Comprehensibility:** Krashen's theory of comprehensible input may provide guidance for selecting appropriate videos. An ideal video clip for demonstrating language functions should 'contains structure a bit beyond learners' current level of competence ($i+1$)' (Krashen 1982: 21) because the input is comprehensible in context and the acquisition of new language functions may thus occur naturally.
2. **Sociocultural variables:** It is important to consider the sociocultural variables (e.g. the speakers' social status, their relationship to one another, informal versus formal situations, etc.) while looking for the targeted communicative acts and strategies in raw materials, as a certain language function may be achieved in varied forms impacted by these factors.
3. **Content appropriateness:** Language exchanges in authentic mass media do not occur in a value-neutral vacuum. While these embedded values are invaluable for developing cultural competence, some content (e.g. adultery, vulgarity, or political incorrectness) might not be appropriate for certain learner groups (e.g. younger children).
4. **Technical qualities:** Beyond the content of a video clip, teachers may also need to evaluate a number of technical qualities to ensure an effective viewing experience, such as the length of the video, visual and sound qualities, availability of subtitles, easiness to be embedded in the learning management system used by the school/course, etc.

Finding appropriate video clips with a specific language function in mind might be extremely time-consuming. Since many CFL teachers are also consumers of authentic mass media

themselves, some of them have developed a habit of logging scenes into an index of language functions while watching authentic media for personal recreational purposes, and draw on them when certain functions are needed in their classes. Another way to compromise and save time is to use simulated or elicited materials to fill the gap of, but not to replace authentic media materials. ‘Simulated authentic’ materials are those intended for language learners yet exhibit features that have a high probability of occurrence in genuine acts of communication (Geddes and White 1978). Elicited conversations are dialogues between native speakers who are provided with contextual information to conduct role-plays (Bardovi-Harlig 2015). Since the conversation is not scripted, elicited conversations still reflect natural discursive features similar to real-life samples. The lesson sample above provides an example of using such materials selected from Practical Chinese to display a full range of compliment response strategies.

For the convenience of showing only the selected clip rather than the full-length video, some teachers choose to download and trim the video, which may raise a legal concern, especially given that many authentic media materials are indeed copyright intellectual properties. One alternative to that is to embed the video from the streaming service with a preset start/end time. Figure 22.1 is an example to generate such customized links on YouTube.

A video-based lesson plan on language functions usually executes in four stages:

1. Pre-viewing: It is intended to provide learners the language resources and background information of the videos, since the short video clip might be a small portion of a full-length video and thus suffer some decontextualization. A brief introduction of the background may help learners to make more informed inference in light of the sociocultural factors in play.
2. Viewing: In this stage, learners watch the video clips to observe the target language function between native speakers, which enhance their understanding of the linguistic and sociocultural knowledge. To ensure active viewing and facilitate learning, teachers may design tasks that may be completed during viewing, such as worksheets, or embedded interactive questions with tools such as Edpuzzle, Kaltura, or PlayPosit (See Figure 22.2 for example).



Figure 22.1 Example of sharing a selected portion of a YouTube video

Source: From www.youtube.com/watch?v=yp5IKG2arq4



Figure 22.2 Example of embedded interaction in a video using Kaltura

Source: From Practical Chinese at <https://communicateinchinese.com/>

3. Post-viewing: It is the stage where the learners demonstrate learning. It is often done through (a combination of) checking/discussing the tasks completed during the viewing stage and a productive task in which the learners apply the learned knowledge.
4. Follow-up: This stage may include some wrap-up instruction to reinforce learning, feedback from the teacher or peers, and learners' reflection.

Using Authentic Audiovisual Mass Media Materials as a Primary Source of Input

The main difference between using authentic AV materials to demonstrate language functions and using them as a primary source of input is in fact a difference in the rationale of curricular design. In the former model, the curriculum is composed of a series of language functions and the language samples taken from authentic mass media tend to be short, containing only the language exchanges of the targeted function. In the latter, the curriculum aims to process texts, in this case the mass media materials, as a whole rather than focusing on individual language functions, and thus the materials tend to be used in a considerable, if not full, length. These courses also tend to enroll learners with higher intermediate or advanced proficiency and many adopt a content-based curriculum, which may be attributed to the fact that content-based instruction (CBI) makes 'dual commitment to language- and content-learning objectives' (Stoller 2004: 261). Mass media offer a rich collection of content that allows learners to acquire language in the subject domain and learn content through the language medium simultaneously.

Some courses adopt authentic AV materials as the center of their curricular design. For instance, Liu (2016) developed the course *Modern Chinese Society and Culture through Documentaries*, using documentaries to facilitate in-depth understanding of contemporary Chinese society. Other courses use such materials in combination with other types of texts in order to provide relevant linguistic, cultural, or content information. For instance, in Wu's (2014) course *Chinese*

Folk Culture, video clips are used together with book chapters and articles to demonstrate Chinese folk culture practices (e.g. Chinese puppet theater). Another example is Liu's (2013) employment of animation series adapted from the classics of Chinese philosophy (e.g. Zhuangzi) along with the original texts in his course *Traditional Chinese Thoughts and Philosophy*. It is worth mentioning that courses on Chinese culture taught in learners' first language also often use mass media materials either produced in the first language or in Chinese but with translated subtitles, to facilitate cultural learning, such as Crespi's (2011) course *The Chinese City: Living Beijing*, which incorporated videos about Beijing to engage learners in their investigation of Beijing.

The following example will illustrate how full-length fictional drama may be used as a primary source of input to develop learners' linguistic and cultural competences.

Example

This example is drawn from coauthor Navarre's course: *Chinese through Theater and Performance*. This course did not have a textbook and used authentic mass media materials exclusively. The goal was for learners of intermediate-high to advanced-low proficiency to use language to express not only ideas, but also emotions and interpersonal relationships in real-life situations. A typical unit procedure is as follows:

Before class: Learners watch a selected video in full length and post their reaction (written output) on the course blog to a prompt question, usually related to their own life experience. For instance, the prompt question for the movie 我的少女时代 (*Our Times*) (Chen, 2015) goes, “请回忆你的高中生活: 你的经验和林真心 / 徐太宇的高中生活有什么相同和相异之处? (Please reflect on your own life in high school: How is your experience similar/different to Lin Zhenxin/Xu Taiyu?)”.

In class: Learners watch selected scenes of the play and discuss the language exchanges emphasizing emotional expression or relational situation. The teacher provides necessary linguistic/cultural instruction. Learners then act out the selected scenes.

After class: Learners record their reaction (spoken output) to topics related to the selected scenes and post it to the course blog.

Group project: learners write original scripts of a given emotional/relational topic and act them out as a live or recorded film production.

This model also addresses higher-level cognitive tasks, namely analyzing, evaluating, and creating, on Bloom's Taxonomy (see Figure 22.3). The media materials selected by the teacher were recent and thus the language expressions were most up-to-date, the situations relevant to contemporary sociocultural reality. It is worth noting that a considerable amount of class time was allotted to acting both the selected drama scenes and the original play scripts they created. Drama acting in a foreign-language classroom has had documented positive effects in promoting learners' language production, motivating learning, and reducing learning anxiety (Via 1987; Piazzoli 2011). Although this course was designed for college learners, the model may be adapted for younger learners.

Suggestions for Using AV Materials as a Primary Source of Input

The main factors to consider for selecting AV materials as a primary source of input are the same as those for using them to demonstrate language functions: comprehensibility, sociocultural variables, content appropriateness, and technical qualities. As mentioned above, many full-length

Bloom's Taxonomy

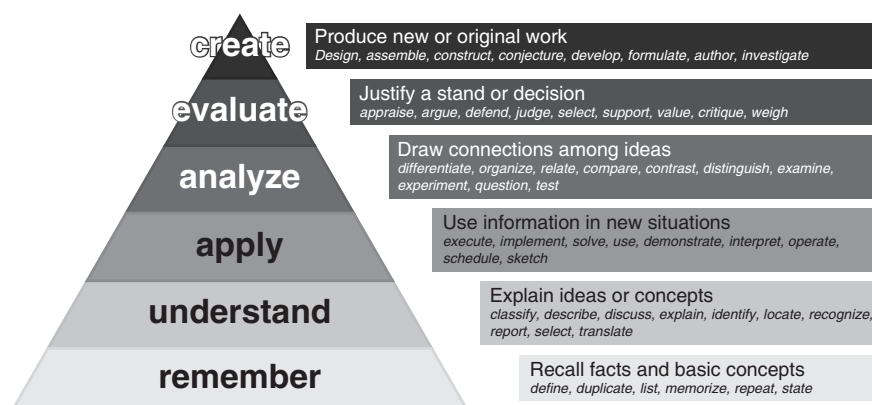


Figure 22.3 Bloom's Taxonomy¹

AV materials are used in content-based curriculum, the appropriateness of both language and content should be reviewed throughout the whole selection of media materials in question.

Accompanying the AV materials with other types of texts may provide valuable additional language input and/or triangulation of different perspectives on the topic. Examples of such a combination may include: a novel and its adapted TV series or movie, TV news broadcasts and newspaper, a comic book and its animation, and a biography of a celebrity and a film about the person, etc. This format may deepen learners' understanding of the content, familiarize them with different text styles and rhetoric, accommodate different learners' preferred learning styles, and develop language skills in multiple modes (e.g. reading and listening).

For convenience, many teachers choose to share the media materials with their class groups in a digital format. Files or links may be shared and organized in their course management system, a course blog, or through cloud services. Sharing the video clips on the course blog allows learners to react immediately in the comment section below the blog post, while other platforms may require the teacher to set up a separate page/folder to collect learners' reaction.

Due to the length of the videos, many teachers choose to have learners view them at home and reserve the face-to-face class hours for discussion and follow-up activities. In order to check comprehension during the viewing at home, one may use the previously mentioned tools to embed interactive questions. Alternatively, some web-based services such as ClassroomSalon, VideoAnt, or VideoNot.es, allows learners to annotate the video with their own comments any time during the viewing experience (see Figure 22.4 for example), and see each other's annotations if the teachers enable the function in the settings.

Another important matter that teachers should consider when having learners view full-length authentic AV materials is the question of scaffolding. Sometimes even a well-selected video that matches the learners' proficiency in general may contain scenes or specific content that would call for additional support. Teachers may provide such support in various forms, such as video background introduction, vocabulary lists, subtitles (in Chinese or learners' first language), transcripts or summaries of the plot, linguistic or culture explanations, and worksheets that direct learners' attention to certain scenes or language exchanges. Teachers may also break the full-length video (e.g. a two-hour movie) into more manageable portions (30 minutes of viewing each day), or slow down the playback in order to help learners to process the content.

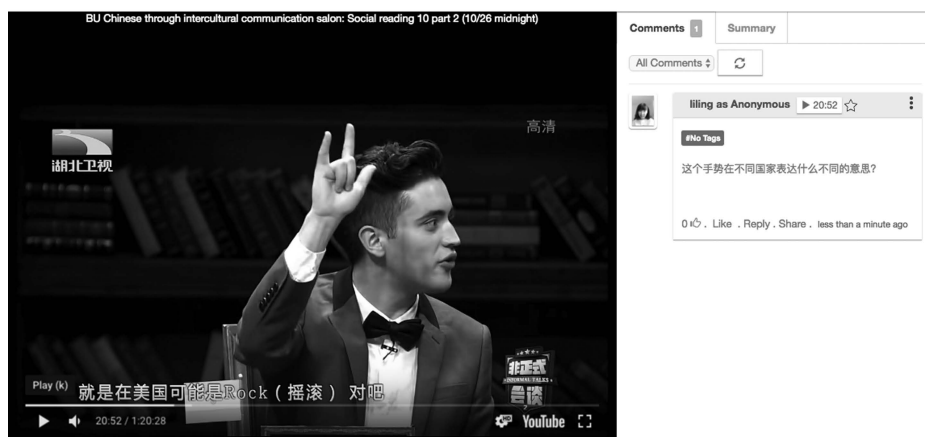


Figure 22.4 Example of video annotation on classroomsalon.com

Using Authentic AV Materials to Solicit Language Output

While acknowledging that language output is often a logical next step of pedagogical design after processing input, as shown in both lesson examples above, this section aims to include a specific use of AV materials that does not involve language input from the materials and whose sole purpose is to solicit language output. Such materials include:

1. Silent videos: Many short films are produced without language, including most short animations nominated for the Academy Awards every year, many cartoon series such as Tom and Jerry or the Pink Panther Show, and many personal videos, such as those in America's Funniest Home Videos. Since language input is kept to the minimum in silent videos, the selection does not need to be limited to those produced by Chinese creators. However, if teachers prefer to include Chinese-specific cultural content, they may choose from the classics produced by Shanghai Animation Film Studio from the 1960s to 1980s, such as *牧笛* (*The Cowboy's Flute*, 1963) or *鹬蚌相争* (*The Fight Between the Snipe and the Clam*, 1983), or independent films by an emerging new generation of animation makers, such as *低头人生* (*Life Smartphone*, Xie, 2015), *白鸟谷* (*Valley of White Birds*, Lang, 2018) or *荷* (*Lotus*, Duan, 2005). Silent videos tend to be relatively short and because of the lack of language input, they convey messages and emotions via vivid actions. These features make them great candidates for learners to produce narratives telling the story, which could be done as a summary (written or spoken) or a digital storytelling project that records learners' recorded narration along with the movie using screen-capturing tools (e.g. Screencastify or Screencast-O-Matic) that record the display on the screen and the narrator's voice simultaneously. Other output tasks after viewing a silent video may include discussion of the content, description of certain actions in selected scenes, and prediction of development after the end of story or the part shown to them.
2. Silenced videos: The difference between silent videos and silenced videos is that the latter were originally produced as a normal voiced video but are only silenced by the teacher for learning purposes. Any authentic audio-visual mass media materials can be silenced simply by muting them during playback. Silenced videos may bring learners' attention to non-verbal expressions (e.g. body language, facial expressions, or physical distance between

speakers) which are equally important for developing communicative competence in L2. In addition to content discussion, narration, and prediction, one specific type of task works particularly well with silenced videos: dubbing. Because these videos were originally produced with voice and may include scenes of conversations, they offer rich opportunities for learners to voice-act on behalf of the characters, either with the original script or with their own creation of lines. It gives learners an opportunity to use the target language in real-life situations and for emotional and relational purposes.

3. Videos in non-target languages: Videos produced in non-target languages may also serve as prompts for language output, usually because the relevance of the content. In coauthor Navarre's intermediate-level Chinese course, she used the trailer video of a Hollywood movie *Downsizing* (Payne, 2017) as an inspirational prompt for learners to imagine how it would change their life if they became 3-inch mini-sized humans and create a digital story in Chinese. Using multiple videos created for audiences in different cultures/language communities (e.g. commercial ads of the same product broadcasted in different countries) may also help raise intercultural awareness.

When the purpose of using such materials is to provide prompts for topical discussion, the procedure tends to be similar to previously introduced models: pre-viewing introduction, video viewing, and follow-up activities. In contrast, the following lesson example demonstrates a unique way of using silent authentic AV materials to introduce specific linguistic forms associated with the actions in the scene.

Example

This example was drawn from a teacher's blog (洋插队, Jump Abroad 2010), in which the author-teacher documented their lesson using a silent classic 三个和尚 (*Three Monks*, Xu, 1982) to teach eighth-grade heritage learners the distinction between similar motion words such as 冲 (to dash), 追 (to chase), 跑 (to run), and 奔 (to rush/flee), and use them in describing one's actions.

The class group had learned the traditional story Three Monks from their textbook before this lesson using the selected video. The teacher first asked the learners to identify the 'vivid' parts of the written text from less vivid ones and then showed them the video clip correspondent to a less vivid part. The learners had a follow-up discussion leading to the conclusion that the video clip was more vivid not only because it has visuals, but also because there are more actions included in the scene. Learners were then grouped to count the actions of each protagonist in the video clip and tried to express them in Chinese. The teacher then asked learners to demonstrate each motion word they used with body movements and added instruction in the process when necessary. At the end, learners were asked to retell the story along with the playback of the video clip.

In this example, the use of the silent video directs learners' attention to the actions as instructional focus and the solicited output demonstrates targeted learning outcomes, namely the identification, comparison, and application of similar motion words.

Suggestions for Using Authentic AV Materials to Solicit Output

One advantage of using authentic AV materials with little or no target language input is that such materials do not prime learners' output with linguistic hints. There are no phrases or

sentences for them to directly copy or adapt into their own language production. With the absence of language input, however, comprehension of the content is highly dependent on the visual presentation. It is thus important to ensure the visuals are clear enough, in both technical and expressional senses, for learners to process, especially in the case of silenced videos, which are originally produced with language input as an integral component of communication.

When using AV materials in non-target languages, the teacher needs to also consider the appropriateness of the language, particularly if the language in the selected material can be understood by the learners (e.g. learners' L1). When designing the output task, the teacher may want to use some techniques to prevent learners from directly translating the dialogues or narrations in the video into the target language. One way to prevent direct translation is to have learners complete the output task after finishing watching the full length or a longer portion of the video. By the time they finish watching, the information has already been processed and stored in the form of semantic interpretation rather than its original linguistic forms (see comparison between syntactic and semantic memories in Sachs 1967). Another technique is to use the non-target language material as an inspirational prompt, as mentioned in Navarre's use of the trailer of *Downsizing*, for learners to expand, predict, and create their own content, rather than describing and summarizing.

Conclusion

Authentic AV materials are pedagogically valuable for Chinese language and culture learning in many aspects, as examples to model language, as a primary source of input, and as a stimulus to solicit output. While different types of mass media materials may serve different learning needs and purposes, the key factors to consider when teachers select and use such materials remain the same, namely input comprehensibility, sociocultural variables, content appropriateness, and technical qualities.

Some technologies may be utilized to enhance the learning experience with authentic AV materials, such as the tools to embed interactive activities during viewing, or those that allow learners to conveniently react to the content during or after viewing, as mentioned in the discussion of each model in this chapter.

Some teaching approaches may be more commonly associated with authentic AV materials than others. For instance, communicative language learning may rely on such materials to provide contextualized language examples for real-life language use and cultural knowledge; content-based instruction may benefit from the wide coverage of subject matters in these materials; authentic AV materials may also be used as the at-home component of flipped learning, leaving the class hours for hands-on tasks targeting higher cognitive skills (e.g. applying, analyzing, evaluating, and creating). However, it does not mean the use of such materials need to be limited to these approaches/methods. With their high accessibility, teachers of any type of CFL classrooms may choose at their convenience what, when and how to incorporate authentic audio-visual mass media materials and harness the many advantages they may bring to the designed learning experiences.

Note

- 1 This graphic was created by Center for Teaching, Vanderbilt University and was downloaded from www.flickr.com/photos/vandycft/29428436431 with license permission: <https://creativecommons.org/licenses/by/2.0/legalcode>.

References

- Bardovi-Harlig, K. (2013) 'Developing L2 pragmatics'. *Language Learning*, 63(s1): 68–86.
- Bardovi-Harlig, K. (2015) 'Operationalizing conversation in studies of instructional effect in L2 pragmatics'. *System* 48: 21–34.
- Brown, H. D. (2000) *Principles of Language Learning and Teaching*, 5th edn. White Plains, NY: Longman.
- Crespi, J. A. (2011) 'Living Beijing: Encountering the Asian city through digital storytelling'. *ASIANetwork Exchange: A Journal for Asian Studies in the Liberal Arts* 18(2): 62–78.
- Geddes, M. and White, R. (1978) 'The use of semi-scripted simulated authentic speech in listening comprehension'. *Audiovisual Language Journal* 16(3): 137–145.
- Huang, L. (2017) 'Practical Chinese'. Retrieved from <https://communicateinchinese.com/>
- Jump Abroad. 洋插队 (2010) 用《三个和尚》进行动作描写教学 (Use three monks to teach description of actions) [Blog post]. Retrieved from http://blog.sina.com.cn/s/blog_655a98f50100i2hs.html.
- Krashen, S. (1982) *Principles and Practice in Second Language Acquisition*. Oxford: Pergamon Press.
- Liu, G. (2013) 'Cultivating cultural analysis ability through content-based instruction and assessment: Traditional Chinese thought and literature through comic books and animation'. Paper presented at 2013 Annual Convention and World Languages Expo, Orlando, FL.
- Liu, G. (2016) 'Using Chinese documentary films to enhance advanced learners' language proficiency and cultural understanding'. Paper presented at 2016 Annual Convention and World Languages Expo (ACTFL), Boston, MA.
- Liu, L. and Deng, F. (2009) *Home with Kids*. Beijing: Xingjie Press.
- Martinez, A. G. (2002) 'Authentic materials: An overview. Free resources for teachers and learners of English'. *Karen's Linguistics Issues* 1–7.
- Mayor, R. E. (2001) *Multimedia Learning*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Melvin, B. S. and Stout, D. S. (1987) 'Motivating language learners through authentic materials'. *Interactive Language Teaching* 44–56.
- Nichols, B. (2017) *Introduction to Documentary*. Indiana: Indiana University Press.
- Peacock, M. (1997) 'The effect of authentic materials on the motivation of EFL learners'. *ELT Journal* 51(2): 144–156.
- Piazzoli, E. (2011) 'Process drama: The use of affective space to reduce language anxiety in the additional language learning classroom'. *Research in Drama Education: The Journal of Applied Theatre and Performance* 16(4): 557–573.
- Sachs, J. S. (1967) 'Recognition memory for syntactic and semantic aspects of connected discourse'. *Perception & Psychophysics* 2(9): 437–442.
- Schmidt, R. (2001) 'Attention'. In P. Robinson (ed.), *Cognition and Second Language Instruction*, 3–32. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Sherman, J. (2003) *Using Authentic Video in the Language Classroom*. Ernst Klett Sprachen. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Stoller, F. L. (2004) 'Content-based instruction: Perspectives on curriculum planning'. *Annual Review of Applied Linguistics* 24: 261–283.
- Sweet, H. (1899) *The Practical Study of Languages*. London: Oxford University Press.
- Swender, E., Conrad, D. J. and Vicars, R. (2012) *ACTFL Proficiency Guidelines 2012*. Alexandria, VA: American Council on the Teaching of Foreign Languages.
- Via, R. (1987) 'The magic "if" of theater: Enhancing language learning through drama'. *Interaction Language Teaching* 110–123.
- Washburn, G. N. (2001) 'Using situation comedies for pragmatic language teaching and learning'. *TESOL Journal* 10(4): 21–26.
- Wu, S., Lei, Y. and Guan, K. (2014) 'Implementing CALL technology in teaching a content-based Chinese hand puppet theater course'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 5(2): 36–48.

Understanding Tertiary Chinese Language Learners' Needs

A Cross-Curricular Perspective

Hui Huang

Introduction

Since late last century, the term 'learner-centered' has been taken as a golden educational principle in general (e.g. McCombs and Whisler 1997) and in second language (L2) teaching in particular (e.g. Richards and Rodgers 2014 for a review). Being 'learner-centered' provides a perspective that focuses on the individual—their heredity, experiences, perspectives, backgrounds, talents, interests, capacities, and needs—with a focus on learning. The research maintains that, the more effective the available knowledge is in regard to learning and how it occurs, the more effective we may become in promoting the highest levels of motivation, learning, and achievement for all learners. Research on L2 teaching, therefore, has traditionally placed the learner as the essential processor of language learning, and the analysis of their needs has determined the initial step toward an effective language curriculum development (e.g. Long 2005; Richards 2017). Needs analysis, therefore, is of critical significance in various models of language curriculum design (e.g. *Target Situation Analysis*; *Present Situation Analysis*; *Learning Needs Analysis*; *Task-based Needs Analysis*; see Section 2 for details) because without needs analysis, in fact, a teacher may end up involved in what West has described as 'Teaching for no obvious reason' (1994: 1).

While the Chinese language has become a global language, gaining copious visibility internationally in both Chinese-speaking and non-Chinese-speaking contexts (Bianco 2007), an increasing amount of research is conducted in the field of teaching Chinese as a foreign language (CFL) (Ke 2012) or as a heritage language (CHL) (Li and Duff 2018). The updated and detailed literature in these areas can be found in Casas-Tost and Rovira-Esteva (2015) as well as Ke (2018), in which many researchers focus on the CFL/CHL instruction of language skills (reading, speaking, listening, grammar, and/or pragmatics), the factors influencing the acquisitional process of Chinese (e.g. socio-contextual or individual), or the empirical pedagogy of CFL/CHL in the classroom or through the deployment of technology. However, as an emergent field of scholarly endeavor, the scope and number of studies on Chinese language learner needs is limited, with the exception of some pioneering attempts in local areas (e.g. Chiang 2002; C. Huang 2014; H. Huang 2010). The purpose of the chapter, therefore, is twofold: to review the research concerning the needs analysis of Chinese language learners in tertiary settings by

examining historical and contemporary contexts for this work; and to provide a cross-curricular perspective to complement the scholarship in the area.

Needs Analysis—Historical Perspective

As learner needs are central to language teaching, considerable research has been dedicated to the role of needs analysis in the process of designing and implementing language courses (Munby 1978; Hutchinson and Waters 1987; West 1994; Long 2005; Brown 2016). Language curriculum books have also included increasingly large sections on needs analysis over the years, including: Nunan (1988: 43–53), Brown (1995: 37–70), Graves (2000: 97–121), and Richards (2001: 51–111).

Needs analysis is a systematic process of collecting and analyzing all information necessary to define a *defensible* curriculum (Brown 1995) that will satisfy the language learning and teaching requirements of the students and teachers within the context of (a) particular institution(s). The purpose of conducting a needs analysis is to develop a profile of the linguistic and cultural needs of a group of learners and enable decisions to be made regarding the curriculum or the goals and content of the teaching practice or training (Richards 2001).

Needs analysis was firmly established in the mid-1970s to respond to the course design of both English for Occupational Purpose (EOP) and English for Academic Purposes (EAP). In the earlier periods, needs analysis was mainly concerned with linguistic and register analysis where needs were seen as discrete language items of grammar and vocabulary (Dudley-Evans and St. John 1998). However, syllabi grounded on register analysis relied on the intuitions of applied linguists and language teachers rather than domain specialists, and tended to result in synthetic syllabi in which the target language (TL) items were presented as itemized lists (Long 2005). With the publication of Munby's *Communicative Syllabus Design* (1978), needs analysis moved toward placing the learner's purposes in the central position under the umbrella of *Target Situation Analysis* (TSA). Given the shortcomings of the model (e.g. it is time-consuming to create a learner profile, Hutchinson and Waters 1987; complexity of the framework, West 1994), *Present Situation Analysis* (PSA) has been postulated as a complement to TSA (Jordan 1997). While TSA establishes what learners are expected to have learned at the end of the language course, PSA focuses on identifying what learners currently know. However, neither TSA nor PSA can provide a reliable indicator of what is needed to enhance learning and reach the desired goals for EAP. Consequently, other approaches to needs analysis have been proposed, among which *Learning Needs Analysis* (Hutchinson and Waters 1987) is most relevant and well-received (Brown 2016); this method emphasizes the importance of collecting data *from* the learner rather than *about* the learner (West 1997).

Hutchinson and Waters (1987) advocate a learning-centered approach in which learners' *learning needs* play a vital role. They argue that other approaches pay too much attention to language needs, whereas more attention should be paid to how learners learn. They suggest that a 'learning needs' approach is the best route to advance learners from their starting point toward their target situation. Learner needs are approached from two directions: target needs and learning needs. Target needs are defined as 'what the learner needs to do in the target situation' (p. 54) and are classified into three categories: *necessities*, *lacks*, and *wants*. *Necessities* are 'objective needs', or what learners need to know to successfully function in the target L2 situations (p. 55). *Lacks* are defined as the gaps between target L2 proficiency and what learners currently know, while *wants* are 'subjective needs', or what and how the learners would like to learn. Learning needs refer to numerous factors specific to the learner, including their sociocultural background, learning background, and attitudes toward the target language and culture.

Holding the belief that 'learners are far more active and cognitive-independent participants in the acquisition process than is assumed by the erroneous belief that what you teach is what they learn, and when you teach it is when they learn it' (Long 2005: 3), Long advances the learning-centered approach by calling for more attention to 'methodological options' in needs analysis. In his recommended task-based approach, language structures or other linguistic elements are not a focal point of teaching and learning, while tasks are the units of analysis as well as the venues of teaching and learning. The concept of tasks is similar to that of communicative events (Munby 1978), but with an emphasis on language variables rather than sociolinguistic variables.

Abundant research on needs analysis was conducted in the area of EAP (e.g. Brown 2009, 2016; Dudley-Evans and St. John 1998; Hutchinson and Waters 1987) and is being increasingly conducted in language-specific learning, for example, on French (Harlow, Smith and Garfinkel 1980), Japanese (Iwai et al. 1999), Korean (Chaudron et al. 2005), and Chinese (C. Huang 2014). Grounded on different approaches—including Harlow, Smith, and Garfinkel's study on Communicative Syllabus Design (1980), Chaudron's on task-based approach utilizing task modules and interviews (2005), Iwai et al. (1999) and C. Huang (2014) on the learning-needs approach with a focus on both teachers' and students' perceptions of needs—these language-specific studies further testify the key role of needs analysis in language curriculum and syllabus design. These studies also suggest a certain amount of variability in the results dependent upon contextual factors such as culture, individual/institutional differences, or methodology utilized for needs analysis. For example, language teachers' perceptions are found to be not fully congruent with students' perceptions of students' needs (e.g. in communication domains, Iwai et al. 1999; in teaching styles and pedagogy, C. Huang 2014). Chaudron et al.'s study on the development of tasks as an approach to needs analysis reveals that task complexity is an influential factor in regard to students' needs analysis.

Chinese Language Learners and Their Learning Contexts

A language curriculum that does not consider particular groups of students, their needs, and their learning environment is likely to be either inefficient or inadequate (Long 2005; West 1997). The following sections will review the key issues of needs analysis in relation to Chinese language teaching.

Contexts of Learning Chinese Language

Graves (2008), in her well-cited state-of-the-art paper on foreign-language curriculum, has identified two contexts regarding where the teaching or learning of a foreign language can occur: TL-removed contexts and TL-embedded contexts. She emphasizes the importance of this distinction—whether and to what degree the TL is connected with a 'context of use'—in language curriculum planning, enactment, and evaluation. Contexts 'are more than physical places, they are communities of people, enmeshed in social systems that operate according to tacit and explicit norms, hierarchies and values' (pp. 153–154). The typical case of the TL-embedded context is 'study abroad', whereby language learners can study the language in a place where the TL is both the dominant media and socializing language used in everyday life.

Chinese language teaching takes place either in a Chinese-embedded area (e.g. China or Taiwan) or in a non-Chinese-speaking area (e.g. in an American weekend school or at an Australian university). The teaching of CFL in TL-embedded contexts can be traced back to the early 1950s in both China and Taiwan. The number of foreign students in China had grown to

292,611 in 2011 (Tian and Lowe 2014), which is believed to continue growing. In 2011, the Obama administration announced its goal to send 100,000 American students to China, which is also one of the most popular destinations in the New Colombo Plan launched by the Australian government in 2014.

In non-Chinese-speaking areas, Chinese learning and teaching have also undergone a great surge since 2000, when China became an increasingly important economic partner to many countries. For example, ‘Chinese’ is identified as a national priority foreign language by the Australian government (NALSSP 2009). Teaching Chinese in these areas, in principle, should be described as a case of teaching in TL-removed contexts. However, Chinese teaching in a multi-ethnic cultural society, such as the US or Australia, involves more layers of complexity due to centuries of Chinese diasporas (Li and Zhu 2010). In these multi-ethnic countries, there has been a prodigious desire within diaspora Chinese migrant communities to maintain their Chinese ethnolinguistic traditions, one main strategy being through learning the language. Thus, at the tertiary level, a steadily increasing number of CHL students have been choosing to study Chinese. Given the fact that very few postsecondary programs possess the resources or capacity necessary to accommodate the active needs and diverse sociocultural backgrounds of both CFL and CHL learners (Scrimgeour 2014; Li and Duff 2018), sitting in the same classroom are CHL learners and those authentic classroom learners (i.e. CFL learners) who have no or extremely limited exposure to the TL outside the classroom setting.

The research on Chinese language learning in TL-embedded areas through study abroad programs generally falls into three broad categories: (1) report of the outcomes of study abroad programs in terms of language ability; (2) studies on social, psychological, affective, or identity-related factors; and (3) qualitative research into the nature of learning contexts and processes. All the relative studies have evidenced the benefits of studying abroad to different degrees (see Kinginger, Wu and Lee 2018 for a detailed review).

Chinese Language Learners at Tertiary Level

Chinese language learners at tertiary level are categorized into CHL and CFL learners based on whether or not Chinese is learned as a heritage language (HL). This dichotomy between CFL and CHL learners is of great significance because these two groups of learners differ significantly in their linguistic and cultural profile, social-psychological and affective dimension (Li and Duff 2018), and learning needs (H. Huang 2010).

Defining CHL learners is not as straightforward as is doing so for other HL groups, such as Japanese or Korean, because, in the case of Chinese, both the national origins and the language varieties are diverse (Li and Duff 2018). Following the previous research (Li and Duff 2018; Xu and Moloney 2014), ‘CHL’ refers to individuals who have contact with or exposure to some variety of Chinese through family or community connection, but have been educated primarily through the local dominant language, such as English, Vietnamese, or Malay. These learners are fluent in the local dominant language(s) and possess varying degrees of proficiency in Chinese.

Earlier research on Chinese second language acquisition (SLA) at the postsecondary level has focused on Anglophone, CFL’s morphological, syntactic, orthographic, and phonological development in Mandarin (e.g. acquisition of characters, tones, topic-comment structures, grammatical particles such as *ba*, *bei*, *le*, *de*, and various complement structures; see, e.g. Duff and Li 2002; Ke 2012; Wen 2010). Since He and Xiao’s (2008) study was published on Chinese as an HL, an increasing amount of research has been motivated to focus on the area (e.g. Li and Duff 2018). These studies have revealed that the CHL learners’ reasons for learning (e.g. Wen 2011), their identities (He 2010), and the communities they aspire to engage with by means of Chinese

learning are as varied as are their family backgrounds (Xiao 2006), linguistic (e.g. Xu and Moloney 2014) and affective profiles (e.g. Wen 2011).

Chinese Language Learners' Needs

The literature in the area of Chinese language's needs analysis at the tertiary level is inadequate in terms of quantity and scope, particularly when compared to those studies concerning English as an L2. The studies in Table 23.1 have set forth to understand Chinese learners' learning needs from different perspectives (e.g. teacher or student) in different contexts (TL-embedded or TL-removed), focusing on learners' *necessities*, *lacks* (Chiang 2002; C. Huang 2014), or *wants*

Table 23.1 Studies on Chinese language learner needs

<i>Study by</i>	<i>Purpose of the study</i>	<i>Informants</i>	<i>Data collection</i>	<i>Results</i>
Chiang (2002)	To collect students' individual responses and identify the heterogeneity of Chinese-learning processes	26 second-year students taking Chinese in the 'Princeton in Beijing' summer program (eight weeks)	Question answers (Four main questions, one of which is focused on learning difficulties)	1. These students did not consider reading and character writing the most difficult aspect of learning Chinese 2. They regarded tones, speaking, and vocabulary retention as being more difficult
H. Huang (2010)	To investigate if and how the needs of CFL and CHL students at different levels in Australia differ	147 first-year and second-year students in Australia: 126 CFL (96 English as L1; 30 French, Italian, Japanese, Korean, Vietnamese, etc. as L1) and 21 CHL learners	Survey questions to examine students' wishes to improve their Chinese in eight categories (four skills, grammar, vocabulary, characters, and pinyin)	Difference is observed not between levels, but between CHL and CFL learners: CHL learners regard improving their literacy as essential, while CFL learners intend to improve their oral skills and grammatical knowledge
C. Huang (2014)	To develop a deeper understanding of the learning needs of first- and second-year Chinese language students at a university in the US	Eight Chinese teachers and 92 Chinese students from CHN 102 and CHN 202 classes in the US	A one-year language needs analysis project using student and teacher questionnaires (to rate the respondents' [dis] agreement with 43 statements) with a focus on student needs (language needs in the US and China)	There were substantial differences in preference between students and teachers, particularly in terms of teaching styles and how opportunities for conversation and the inclusion of Chinese media may be incorporated into the program

(H. Huang 2010). However, no systematic, down-to-earth research has yet been conducted to understand Chinese learners’ learning needs more holistically.

A Cross-Curricular Perspective of Chinese Language Learners’ Needs

It is one of the foremost goals of the chapter to enhance the scholarship of the role of needs analysis in Chinese language teaching by providing a cross-curricular perspective. In particular, the chapter intends to enrich the knowledge of whether and how Chinese learners’ needs differ according to students’ family backgrounds (i.e. CHL and CFL learners) and across different learning contexts (TL-removed and TL-embedded). This is performed through a report of a case study conducted at three universities from Australia, China, and the US, respectively, with a focus on Chinese students’ profiles and learning needs.

Tertiary Chinese Programs in Australia, China, and the US

One university each was approached for data collection from Australia, China, and the US. These three public universities were selected because they are all well-known for their Chinese language programs both locally and internationally. More importantly, the selections represent the typical profile of Chinese teaching and learning at tertiary level in each designated area, considering enrollment figures and the cohesiveness and efficiency of the curriculum. The Chinese language curriculum in Australia and in the US is analogous (Table 23.2), representing a standard case of teaching Chinese in Chinese-removed contexts where Chinese is taught as a subject. In China, the Chinese language is both a learning subject and the instruction language for other subjects (e.g. business, in students’ second and third years). Apart from the initiative to contrast students’ learner needs in different contexts (TL-embedded or TL-removed), the chapter also attempts to contribute to the relative literature by probing the commonality and variances of students’ learner needs from the two very parallel contexts, that is, Australia and the US (Xu and Moloney 2014).

Table 23.2 Chinese programs in Australia, China, and the US

<i>Country</i>	<i>Chinese program</i>	<i>Course structure</i>	<i>Weekly contact hours</i>
Australia	Four CFL language levels • Introductory • Intermediate • Proficient • Advanced	Chinese as a major, minor, or an elective	4–5 hours
China	• First year: Chinese language course • Second and third year: Chinese language + major course (e.g. international trade, Chinese education)	Chinese language as the foundation course across three years	14–16 hours
US	Three CFL language levels • Elementary • Intermediate • Advanced	Chinese as a major, a minor, or an elective	3 hours

Chinese Learners' Profiles in Australia, China, and the US

A questionnaire was designed to collect students' background information and experience in learning the Chinese language. Out of 393 responses, 359 valid cases were utilized for further analysis and interpretation. According to their claimed Chinese course, level, and whether they speak any Chinese dialect with any family members, these students were classified into 18 groups against their study countries (Australia, China, US), allocated language levels (Elementary, Intermediate, and Advanced), and ethnic backgrounds (CFL, CHL). From Table 23.3, we can clearly observe the following:

- More elementary and intermediate students were enrolled across the three institutions, indicating a pattern of decreasing retention rates at the higher levels;
- There are more CHL learners than CFL learners in TL-removed countries (Australia and US), while more CFL than CHL students were enrolled in TL-embedded country (China).
- The mean years of learning Chinese were dissimilar between CHL and CFL learners at each level. In general, CHL students in Australia claimed to have learned Chinese for a longer period than their CFL counterparts, although the same trend was not found in the advanced-level students in China and the US, where CFL learners claimed to have studied

Table 23.3 Chinese learners' profiles in Australia, China, and the US

Country	Levels	Family background	Gender		Mean age	Mean years of studying Chinese at university	Mean years of studying Chinese
			F	M			
Australia	Elementary N = 59	CHL (N = 21)	8	13	20.4	0.53	2.2
		CFL (N = 38)	22	16	19.7	0.57	1.1
	Intermediate* N = 88	CHL (N = 50)	34	16	19.7	1.04	7.2
		CFL (N = 38)	26	12	21.7	1.2	4
	Advanced N = 25	CHL (N = 19)	17	2	19.6	1.25	8.7
		CFL (N = 6)	5	1	21	1.52	7.3
	Total N = 172	CHL (N = 90)	59	31	19.9	0.94	6.03
		CFL (N = 82)	53	29	20.8	1.10	4.13
China	Elementary N = 23	CHL (N = 8)	5	3	20.4	0.88	2.50
		CFL (N = 15)	9	6	20.9	1.07	3.10
	Intermediate N = 44	CHL (N = 9)	4	5	21.4	1.89	2.60
		CFL (N = 35)	15	20	20.7	1.94	2.40
	Advanced N = 21	CHL (N = 6)	2	4	21	3.4	4.20
		CFL (N = 15)	10	5	21.2	3.36	5.20
	Total N = 88	CHL (N = 23)	11	12	20.9	2.06	3.10
		CFL (N = 65)	34	31	20.9	2.12	3.57
US	Elementary N = 52	CHL (N = 42)	24	18	19.7	0.64	3.45
		CFL (N = 13)	7	6	23.0	0.64	2.70
	Intermediate N = 29	CHL (N = 26)	16	10	20.1	1.35	3.90
		CFL (N = 3)	3	0	20	1.17	2.68
	Advanced N = 18	CHL (N = 8)	5	3	19.1	1.69	4.06
		CFL (N = 7)	3	4	21	2.21	7.10
	Total N = 99	CHL (N = 76)	45	31	19.6	1.23	3.80
		CFL (N = 23)	13	10	21.3	1.34	4.13

* Australian students at intermediate and proficient levels merge to the intermediate level in the data analysis.

Chinese language longer. This indicates most CHL learners in Australia studied Chinese prior to the tertiary level;

- These students were of similar age, primarily 18–22 years old. Advanced CHL students are found to be generally younger than their CFL counterparts. This indicates CHL students may have higher levels of Chinese proficiency prior to entering the tertiary study given their sociolinguistic backgrounds;
- All groups of students had learned Chinese before entering universities, but to various degrees;
- From the interview with teachers, we understand most Chinese students in Australia and the US are local students who speak English, one Chinese dialect, or another language as their L1. In China, all students are international students from Laos, Burma, Thailand, and other Southeast Asian countries, and their L1 is the local dominant language (e.g. Lao, Burmese, or Thai).

Chinese Learner Needs in Australia, China, and the US

An adapted needs analysis survey questionnaire (Gravatt, Richards and Lewis 1997) was conducted across the three tertiary institutions. The main needs questionnaire was structured around the four basic skills (listening, speaking, reading, and writing) with an emphasis on the problems commonly encountered. The questionnaire asked students ‘if and how often they encountered the problems’ (ranking from 4 to 1, representing ‘often’, ‘sometimes’, ‘rarely’, and ‘never’, respectively). For each skill, five items were surveyed (vocabulary, grammar, culture, and other skill-specific items, such as character in writing and pronunciation in speaking; see Table 23.4 for details). Apart from the Likert scale questions, open-ended questions were provided following each skill to provide students space to add additional information or elaborate upon any identified problems. All the data serve as the basis for understanding students’ difficulty and needs associated with learning Chinese. Considering the students’ Chinese/English linguistic levels, the survey questionnaire was written in both English and Chinese. This proved to be helpful for the students in China who read in Chinese more comfortably than in English.

The mean score of each tested item was processed using SPSS software to investigate each students’ perceived difficulty with Chinese language learning. Reliability tests were conducted first, and the test found that the data were reliable (i.e. internally consistent). One-way Analysis of Variance (ANOVA) tests and post-hoc Least Significant Difference (LSD) comparisons were conducted to examine any significant difference in these students’ learning needs (1) against their family backgrounds and their allocated proficiency levels within each country, and (2) across the countries where they studied when the questionnaire was administered. Any statistically significant variance between groups was reported as a *p* value, while those comparisons without a significant variance were not reported. Moreover, students’ answers to the optional, open-ended questions were scrutinized to determine any further worries or problems identified by students. Examples from their answers were cited to complement the statistical analysis.

Table 23.4 presents the mean score of each tested item on students’ perceptions of skill difficulties as the indication of their self-assessed learning needs.

Listening

Australia: Among the five tested listening problems, the least concern for Australian students was listening to Chinese culture, while new vocabulary was perceived as the greatest

Table 23.4 Chinese learner needs in Australia, China, and the US

Items: How often I experience the problem in the skill (e.g. listening) when:	Australia (N = 172)				China (N = 88)				US (N = 99)			
	Elementary		Intermediate		Advanced		Elementary		Intermediate		Advanced	
	CHL	CFL	CHL	CFL	CHL	CFL	CHL	CFL	CHL	CFL	CHL	CFL
	N = 21	N = 38	N = 50	N = 38	N = 19	N = 6	N = 8	N = 15	N = 9	N = 35	N = 6	N = 15
	N = 42	N = 13	N = 26	N = 3	N = 8	N = 7	N = 42	N = 13	N = 26	N = 3	N = 8	N = 7
1. Their accents/pronunciation are different from what I've learned.	1.86	2.21	2.10	2.37	2.16	2.00	2.25	2.60	2.89	2.69	2.50	2.33
											1.98	2.15
											1.81	3.33
											1.50	1.57
2. The Chinese language they use is not the same as what I've learned.	1.52	1.68	1.66	2.08	1.58	2.17	2.13	2.67	2.33	2.34	2.17	1.67
											1.55	1.31
											1.54	3.00
											1.63	1.14
3. Their sentences are too long.	1.81	2.13	1.86	2.34	1.47	2.33	2.88	2.33	2.11	2.40	1.83	1.93
											1.57	1.46
											1.81	1.67
											1.50	1.29
4. They use a lot of unknown vocabulary.	2.71	2.68	2.40	3.05	1.95	3.00	2.88	2.53	3.00	2.74	1.83	2.33
											1.98	2.62
											2.15	3.33
											2.13	2.14
5. They talk about Chinese culture a lot.	1.67	1.34	1.60	1.76	1.74	1.67	2.88	2.47	2.22	2.20	2.00	2.20
											1.43	1.69
											1.69	2.00
											1.75	1.14
1. Worrying about speaking Chinese in fear of making a mistake.	2.52	2.53	2.40	2.87	2.42	3.17	2.50	2.53	3.00	2.71	1.83	1.87
											2.10	2.77
											2.35	2.33
											2.75	2.29
2. Not knowing how to utter some Chinese words.	2.76	2.84	2.54	3.18	2.47	2.67	2.88	2.60	2.89	2.77	1.83	2.60
											2.31	2.67
											2.63	2.29

(Continued)

Table 23.4 (Continued)

Items: How often I experience the problem in the skill (e.g. listening) when:	Australia (N = 172)						China (N = 88)						US (N = 99)					
	Elementary		Intermediate		Advanced		Elementary		Intermediate		Advanced		Elementary		Intermediate		Advanced	
	CHL N = 21	CFL N = 38	CHL N = 50	CFL N = 38	CHL N = 19	CFL N = 6	CHL N = 8	CFL N = 15	CHL N = 9	CFL N = 35	CHL N = 6	CFL N = 15	CHL N = 42	CFL N = 13	CHL N = 26	CFL N = 3	CHL N = 8	CFL N = 7
3. Experiencing difficulty pronouncing some Chinese words.	2.24	2.05	2.04	2.47	1.79	2.83	2.63	2.40	2.67	2.46	1.83	1.87	2.12	2.62	2.00	2.67	2.38	1.86
4. Not knowing how to say words relating to Chinese culture.	2.62	2.34	2.34	2.63	2.37	2.50	3.00	2.53	2.89	2.54	2.17	2.40	1.86	2.46	2.12	2.67	2.25	1.71
5. Experiencing difficulty structuring Chinese sentences.	2.48	2.47	2.38	3.11	2.26	3.00	3.00	2.27	2.67	2.37	2.17	2.20	2.05	2.54	2.23	2.67	2.13	2.00
1. Understanding the gist of a Chinese text.	1.90	1.95	1.86	2.16	2.05	2.17	2.75	2.33	3.00	2.63	2.50	2.20	1.91	2.54	1.85	2.33	1.75	1.57
2. Guessing unknown characters.	2.62	2.50	2.32	2.63	2.16	2.50	2.25	2.40	3.00	2.74	2.33	2.07	2.14	2.92	2.54	2.33	2.25	2.00
3. Understanding text organization of a Chinese text.	1.76	2.18	1.92	2.03	2.16	2.33	2.25	2.20	2.56	2.66	2.67	2.33	1.86	2.46	1.81	2.33	1.75	1.57
4. Understanding (specialized) vocabulary.	2.52	2.66	2.44	3.05	2.74	2.67	2.25	2.53	3.00	2.66	3.00	2.00	2.17	2.62	2.31	2.33	2.25	1.86
5. Understanding the text that relates to Chinese culture.	1.81	1.92	1.98	2.11	2.26	2.17	2.25	2.27	3.00	2.83	2.67	2.00	1.81	1.85	2.00	2.33	1.88	1.71

Reading

Writing	1. Forgetting how to write Chinese characters.	2.86	3.16	2.92	2.76	3.00	3.50	2.75	2.60	2.89	2.80	2.17	2.40	2.62	2.92	2.85	3.33	2.75	2.57
	2. Structuring Chinese sentences.	2.57	2.71	2.34	3.05	2.47	3.00	2.38	2.40	2.67	2.71	2.00	2.07	2.31	2.62	2.35	2.67	2.00	2.29
	3. Using appropriate Chinese vocabulary.	2.29	2.61	2.54	2.76	2.26	3.17	2.38	2.40	3.00	2.69	2.00	2.27	2.29	2.46	2.27	2.33	2.00	2.29
	4. Expressing ideas appropriately.	2.38	2.37	2.56	2.58	2.42	2.67	2.00	2.53	2.44	2.54	2.83	2.33	2.24	2.69	2.15	2.33	2.25	2.43
	5. Writing any topics related to Chinese culture.	1.90	1.87	2.38	2.37	2.11	2.00	3.00	2.80	2.78	3.11	2.33	2.33	1.81	1.54	2.27	2.00	2.00	1.86

barrier to listening comprehension. Australian CFL learners consistently perceived more problems with listening than did CHL learners; in particular, a significant difference was detected at Intermediate and Advanced levels between CHL and CFL learners in item L3 (sentences are too long) and item L4 (a lot of unknown vocabulary) (all $p < .05$). Among all groups, the Advanced CHL learners felt quite confident with the listening aspect, although they had some minor concerns about their interlocutors' accents or pronunciations.

China: Roughly speaking, no very apparent difference was detected in students' perceptions of the five surveyed items, although new vocabulary was consistently perceived as the greatest barrier in listening to Chinese (except for Advanced CHL learners). No linear relation was observed between the surveyed listening items and students' family backgrounds. However, Advanced students encountered fewer problems than did the students at lower levels. A statistical significance was found between Elementary CHL and Advanced CHL students in item L2, and between Elementary CFL and Advanced CFL students in items L3, L4, and L5 (all $p < .05$). This means the length of immersion in the local environment is crucial should these students overcome their listening problems, while prior family background is not considered an influential variable for these students.

US: Unknown vocabulary was identified as the most difficult item by all the US groups, especially CFL learners at the Elementary and Intermediate levels as compared with their CHL counterparts. This means that the Chinese family background implies a larger vocabulary size for lower-level learners. The allocated level is another influential factor: Elementary and Intermediate CFL learners found listening difficult, while Advanced CFL learners and all CHL groups did not experience many problems with listening (all except item L4, mean < 2). Very prominently, Intermediate CFL learners encountered problems more frequently than did the Elementary and Advanced CFL learners as well as their CHL classmates in items L1 and L2 (all $p < .05$). The duration taken to learn the language may provide some explanation for this; Intermediate CFL learners claimed to have learned Chinese in the shortest amount of time among all the identified groups (average 2.68 years, Table 23.2).

Speaking

Australia: The Australian Chinese participants found pronouncing a Chinese word easiest, while the lack of vocabulary and the structuring of sentences were considered the most difficult aspects of the speaking category. It is noticeable that the higher-level CFL students felt the speaking skill was the most difficult of all the tested items (S1–S5), where they significantly outnumbered their CHL counterparts (all $p < .05$). In the open-ended questions, eight learners at the Elementary and Intermediate levels identified the 'tone' of a word as a significant and confusing problem, while CHL learners mentioned they were 'struggling to translate Cantonese words to Mandarin' (Australian student, No.189; abbreviated as A189; this abbreviation rule is applied to all following examples from students' answers). One CFL Elementary-level student, for example, made the comment: 'I can't get the tones right despite so much practice! I still sound like a defective robot' (A36).

China: A significant difference was observed between Intermediate-level students and Advanced-level students in the following items (all $p < .05$): item S1 for both CFL and CHL groups, item S2 for CHL learners, and item S3 for CFL learners. These results indicate that students' learning experiences in China have helped the Advanced students perceive far fewer problems when speaking the language. Interestingly, the CHL learners

at the Elementary and Intermediate levels found speaking Chinese to be harder than did the CFL learners, particularly in regard to item S5 ($p < .05$). Authentic conversation with local native speakers (in some cases, using local dialects) might be quite overwhelming for these Chinese-background newcomers, who might have been more confident before going to China. This was verified explicitly in one student's comment, '现在怕汉语语法用得不对 (Now I am afraid that Chinese grammar is not used correctly)' (C21).

US: Overall, the lack of vocabulary and the experience of anxiety while speaking Chinese are the most prominent problems, while talking about Chinese culture is less problematic for these US Chinese learners. Chinese family background is an important variable for the lower-level students' speaking needs; for example, the US CFL Elementary students were more worried about speaking (item L1) and felt they were in greater need of Chinese vocabulary (item L2) and Chinese culture (item L4) than were their CHL counterparts (all $p < .05$). Tones were also identified as a problem by the lower-level CHL students (e.g. U25, U36, and U55).

Reading

Australia: Australian students did not consider reading the topics on Chinese culture a difficult task, although one Intermediate student felt 'Chinese idioms' were a problem (A117). The same low level of concern was identified in their perception of R1 (i.e. understanding the gist of a text). However, (specialized) vocabulary (R4) appeared to be the greatest concern, especially for Intermediate CFL learners in contrast to their CHL peers ($p < .05$).

China: The Intermediate-level students found reading very difficult in regard to all identified items (R1–R5). This result might be related to the fact that the specialized courses (such as International Trade) started in the second year, and their textbooks were all written in Chinese (from teacher interview). These factors may have posed great challenges for these students, especially in R4 (i.e. specialized vocabulary). It is interesting to observe that CHL learners encountered more problems than did their CFL counterparts for all items, specifically in understanding specialized vocabulary and Chinese culture (both $p < .05$). This indicates that family background does not necessarily facilitate their learning of domain-specific or culture-related vocabulary.

US: Unknown characters and specialized vocabulary were identified as the most difficult aspects of reading Chinese by all US groups. One student (U76) commented on the problem of polysemy when reading Chinese because he did 'not realize that the word has a different meaning unless defined'. The Elementary CFL learners found reading in Chinese to be the most difficult, with a significant difference from the same-level CHL learners in items R1 (i.e. understanding the gist), R2 (i.e. specialized vocabulary), and R3 (i.e. text organization) (all $p < .05$). This indicates that Chinese language beginners with Chinese family background have a higher level of reading competence as compared with their non-background counterparts.

Writing

Australia: Writing on a topic about Chinese culture was considered the least worrisome for the Australian students, while writing Chinese characters was the greatest problem for all levels of students; six students reiterated this concern during the open-ended question. This result is partially attributed to 'zero instruction on how to write Chinese characters' (A37). Higher-level (both Intermediate and Advanced) CFL learners found the

structuring of Chinese sentences (partially due to ‘using a variety of sentence structures’, A132; and ‘using appropriate vocabulary’, A141) more challenging than did their CHL classmates ($p < .05$) who have a Chinese family background.

China: The students in China considered writing characters, using appropriated vocabulary, and writing about Chinese culture most problematic, although Advanced CHL learners found expressing themselves to be appropriately most difficult. In addition, the intermediate-level students found writing most difficult in all identified items (character, structure, vocabulary, and culture) as compared with the students at other two levels.

US: Writing Chinese characters and structuring Chinese sentences were identified as the most difficult items by all US groups, while writing about topics on Chinese culture was their least concern (except for Intermediate CHL learners). Many lower-level students emphasized the difficulty of structuring Chinese sentences because they ‘apply English grammar to Chinese sentences’ (U44).

A Cross-Curricular Summary and Pedagogical Implications

Table 23.5 presents a summary of the most problematic items and cross-group comparison results.

Table 23.5 The most difficult Chinese language skills across contexts

	<i>TL-removed contexts (Australia and US)</i>		<i>TL-embedded contexts</i>	<i>Cross-context comparison</i>
	<i>Australia</i>	<i>USA</i>	<i>China</i>	
Listening	• Vocabulary • CHL < CFL esp. Intermediate and Advanced levels (vocabulary, long sentence)	• Vocabulary, esp. Elementary and Intermediate levels CHL < CFL • Intermediate CFL < Elementary and Advanced CFL (pronunciation and language use)	• Vocabulary • Advanced < Elementary: CHL (language use); CFL (vocabulary, long sentences, culture)	• Culture: AU and US < CH
Speaking	• Vocabulary • Grammar • Tones • Dialect: CHL • Higher-level CHL < CFL	• Vocabulary • Anxiety • Tones • CHL < CFL Elementary (anxiety, vocabulary, culture)	• Advanced < intermediate (anxiety, vocabulary) • Lower-level CFL < CHL (grammar)	• Anxiety & grammar: CH < AU and US • Culture: AU and US < CH
Reading	• Vocabulary, esp. Intermediate CHL < CFL	• Vocabulary • Unknown characters (polysemy) • Elementary CHL < CFL (gist, character, organization)	• Intermediate level (all items) • CFL < CHL (vocabulary, culture)	• Intermediate level: AU and US < CH
Writing	• Characters • Higher-level CHL < CFL (grammar, vocabulary)	• Characters • Grammar	• Characters • Vocabulary • Culture • Intermediate level	• Grammar: CFL learner in CH < AU

Note: <: having fewer problems than ($p < .05$); AU: Australia; CH: China

According to Table 23.5, Chinese vocabulary and character writing are two universal problems for students from different learning contexts. However, the students in Chinese-speaking areas (i.e. China) tend to have dissimilar learning needs from those in Australia and the US, whose need patterns appear to be very similar. Moreover, in either context, Chinese family background is a prominent variable. Thus, four distinct groups of learners are identified, all of whom require tailored resources and support to satisfy their diverse learning needs: CFL learners in TL-removed areas, CHL learners in TL-removed contexts, CFL learners in TL-embedded contexts, and CHL learners in TL-embedded contexts. In Chinese-embedded contexts, Chinese language learners possess more pressing needs to communicate on the topics related to Chinese culture, which may emerge from everyday life. The support in Chinese culture and culture-related vocabulary is therefore of great importance for students' success when learning in TL-embedded contexts. Extra attention should be paid to the introducing and consolidating of specialized knowledge during the transitional period when specialized courses commence. In addition, more support and encouragement must be given to CHL learners who do not feel more confident than their CFL peers specifically in regard to reading and speaking.

In TL-removed areas the CFL students who do not worry about Chinese culture, in contrast, may require an all-inclusive approach with a focus on sentence structure and vocabulary; moreover, particular assistance should be provided for CFL elementary-level students such that they may cultivate their verbal communication skills. For CHL students in TL-removed contexts, more considerations are expected for their literacy development, while the support in Mandarin tones and pronunciation for those dialect speakers is necessary. Additionally, discretion is needed when educators decide CHL learners' verbal and literacy levels while reviewing their entry placement test results.

Conclusion

Learner needs diverge and are likely to change because they depend on contextual and human affective variables (Hutchinson and Waters 1987; Nunan 1988). The needs analysis in the context of Chinese language teaching, therefore, must consider the complexity of Chinese language learners and their learning environments, which involve various layers of contact to TL and its culture, through either family heritage or immersion experience in a TL area. It is noted that learners' self-assessments of their language learning needs are context-dependent and grounded in their own learning experiences and expectations from the curriculum and the sociolinguistic environments within which they live. In Chinese-embedded areas, students' language needs derive from not merely the request of the curriculum, but also the necessity to survive in a new sociocultural environment. The immersion experience is not necessarily facilitative to the development of their language confidence and competence but the length and depth that students could engage in the environment will make a difference. In contrast, without such survival pressure, students in Chinese-removed areas are more likely to maintain a higher level of confidence as their expectations of their language proficiency levels are primarily pertinent to their class assessments.

Family background, a vital element in Chinese language learning, is critically influential to how students perceive their needs. Chinese family background implies the exposure to the TL and its culture to various degrees, which proves to be facilitative for CHL students especially lower-level students in Chinese-removed contexts in regard to both speaking and listening abilities. However, such family backgrounds do not impose a positive impact on the perceptions of those CHL learners studying in a Chinese-embedded area, where they are exposed to authentic

language use on a daily basis. On the contrary, these students' Chinese linguistic heritages (e.g. Chinese dialects) may inflict adverse effects on their learning of Mandarin as well as the expectations of their own Chinese proficiency levels.

Research on Chinese learner needs at the tertiary level is still in its infancy. There is significant room for future contributions across a wide range of Chinese language learning and teaching topics. Methodologically, closed items administered through a survey questionnaire provide standardized, easily coded, and quantified data, although this method may limit possible responses and may result in very modest treatments of complex issues (Long 2005). A rigorous needs analysis should involve the systematic collection and analysis of all subjective and objective information (necessities, lacks, and wants) necessary to define and validate a defensible curriculum (Brown 1995). In addition, learner needs should be analyzed on an ongoing basis because they are likely to change over time depending upon contextual and human affective variables (Nunan 1988). In terms of research topics, a number of issues deserve further investigation should they provide the solid foundation needed for effective Chinese language teaching, course design, and delivery. First, the theoretical construct of Chinese learner needs should be reviewed—given the nature of the language and the assorted sociolinguistic profile of Chinese language learners—specifically with regard to the super-diversity of the widespread Chinese community diasporas. Second, Chinese learner needs have not been comprehensively tested through empirical data. It is suggested that a greater number of in-depth, cross-sectional, and/or longitudinal case studies in both TL-embedded and TL-removed contexts are desirable. Ideally, these studies should consider the relationship between Chinese language learners' needs and a number of identified factors, such as gender, proficiency level, multilingual background, prior learning experience, and teaching contexts.

References

English References

- Bianco, J. L. (2007) 'Emergent China and Chinese: Language planning categories'. *Language Policy* 6(1): 3–26.
- Brown, J. D. (1995) *The Elements of Language Curriculum: A Systematic Approach to Program Development*. Boston: Heinle and Heinle.
- Brown, J. D. (2009) '16 Foreign and second language needs analysis'. In M. H. Long and C. Doughty (eds.), *The Handbook of Language Teaching*, 269–293. Malden, MA: Wiley-Blackwell.
- Brown, J. D. (2016) *Introducing Needs Analysis and English for Specific Purposes*. New York: Routledge.
- Casas-Tost, H. and Rovira-Esteva, S. (2015) 'Mapping Chinese language pedagogy from 1966 to 2013: A bibliometric study of the Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 50(2): 31–58.
- Chaudron, C., Doughty, C. J., Kim, Y., et al. (2005) 'A task-based needs analysis of a tertiary Korean as a foreign language program'. In M. H. Long (ed.), *Second Language Needs Analysis*, 225–261. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Chiang, M. (2002) 'An investigation of students' perspective on Chinese language learning'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 37(1): 43–63.
- Dudley-Evans, T. and St. John, M. (1998) *Developments in ESP: A Multi-Disciplinary Approach*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Duff, P. and Li, D. (2002) 'The acquisition and use of perfective aspect in Mandarin'. In M. Salaberry and Y. Shirai (eds.), *The L2 Acquisition of Tense-Aspect Morphology*, 417–453. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Gravatt, B. D., Richards, J. C. and Lewis, M. N. (1997) *Language Needs in Tertiary Studies: ESL Students at the University of Auckland*. University of Auckland, Institute of Language Teaching and Learning.

- Graves, K. (2000) *Designing Language Courses: A Guide for Teachers*. Boston, MA: Newbury House.
- Graves, K. (2008) 'The language curriculum: A social contextual perspective'. *Language Teaching* 41(2): 147–181.
- Harlow, L. L., Smith, W. F. and Garfinkel, A. (1980) 'Student-perceived communication needs: Infrastructure of the functional/notional syllabus'. *Foreign Language Annals* 13(1): 11–22.
- He, A. W. (2010) 'The heart of heritage: Sociocultural dimensions of heritage language acquisition'. *Annual Review of Applied Linguistics* 30: 66–82.
- He, A. W. and Xiao, Y. (eds.). (2008) *Chinese as a Heritage Language: Fostering Rooted World Citizenry*, Vol. 2. NATL Foreign LG Resource Ctr.
- Huang, C. (2014) 'A needs analysis for Chinese language teaching at a university in the United States'. *Language Learning in Higher Education* 4(2): 395–422.
- Hutchinson, T. and Waters, A. (1987) *English For Specific Purposes: A Learning-Centered Approach*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Iwai, T., Kondo, K., Limm, S. J. D., Ray, E. G., Shimizu, H. and Brown, J. D. (1999) 'Japanese language needs analysis'. Retrieved from www.nflrc.hawaii.edu/Networks/NW13/NW13.pdf.
- Jordan, R. R. (1997) *English for Academic Purposes*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Ke, C. (2012) 'Research in second language acquisition of Chinese: Where we are, where we are going'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 47(3): 43–114.
- Ke, C. (2018) *The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Second Language Acquisition*. New York: Routledge.
- Kinginger, C., Wu, Q. and Lee, S. H. (2018) 'Chinese language acquisition in study abroad contexts'. In C. Ke (ed.), *The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Second Language Acquisition*. New York: Routledge.
- Li, D. and Duff, P. (2018) 'Learning Chinese as a heritage language in postsecondary contexts'. In C. Ke (ed.), *The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Second Language Acquisition*. New York: Routledge.
- Li, W. and Zhu, H. (2010) 'Voices from the diaspora: Changing hierarchies and dynamics of Chinese multilingualism'. *International Journal of the Sociology of Language* 2010(205): 155–171.
- Long, M. (2005) *Second Language Needs Analysis*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- McCombs, B. L. and Whisler, J. S. (1997) *The Learner-Centered Classroom and School: Strategies for Increasing Student Motivation and Achievement*. The Jossey-Bass Education Series. San Francisco: Jossey-Bass Inc., Publishers.
- Munby, J. (1978) *Communicative Syllabus Design*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- NALSSP. (2009) *National Asian Languages and Studies in Schools Program*. Canberra: Australian Commonwealth Government.
- Nunan, D. (1988) *The Learner-Centred Curriculum*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Richards, J. C. (2001) *Curriculum Development in Language Teaching*. Ernst Klett Sprachen. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Richard, J. C. (2017) *Curriculum Development in Language Teaching*, 2nd edn. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Richards, J. C. and Rodgers, T. S. (2014) *Approaches and Methods in Language Teaching*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Scrimgeour, A. (2014) 'Responding to the diversity of Chinese language learners in Australian schools'. *Babel* 49: 26–35.
- Tian, M. and Lowe, J. A. (2014) 'Intercultural identity and intercultural experiences of American students in China'. *Journal of Studies in International Education* 18(3): 281–297.
- Wen, X. (2010) 'Acquisition of the displacement Ba-construction by English-speaking learners of Chinese'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 45(2): 73–99.
- Wen, X. (2011) 'Chinese language learning motivation: A comparative study of heritage and nonheritage learners'. *Heritage Language Journal* 8(3): 41–66.
- West, R. (1994) 'Needs analysis in language teaching'. *Language Teaching* 27(1): 1–19.
- West, R. (1997) 'Needs analysis: State of the art'. *Teacher Education for LSP* 68–79.
- Xiao, Y. (2006) 'Heritage learners in the Chinese language classroom: Home background'. *Heritage Language Journal* 4(1): 47–56.

Xu, H. L. and Moloney, R. (2014) 'Identifying Chinese heritage learners' motivations, learning needs and learning goals: A case study of a cohort of heritage learners in an Australian university'. *Language Learning in Higher Education* 4(2): 365–393.

Chinese Reference

Huang, Hui 黄慧 (2010) '学习者需求分析和移民国家汉语课程设置' (Learner needs analysis and Chinese curriculum development in immigrant countries) 第九届国家汉语教学研讨会论文选 (Selected Conference Proceedings of 9th International Symposium of Chinese Teaching and Learning), 177–185. 北京, 商务出版社(Beijing: Commercial Press).

Emotion, Attitude, and Value in Primary School Chinese Textbooks

Bo Wang, Yuanyi Ma and Isaac N. Mwinlaaru

Introduction

This chapter examines the encoding of emotion, attitude, and value (EAV) as defined by the *Chinese Curriculum Standards (CCS)* in primary school textbooks. The analysis of textbook discourse has increasingly gained the attention of scholars in educational linguistics since textbooks play a crucial role in the success of formal schooling. Studies in this area can be classified into those that have examined the level of linguistic complexity needed for comprehensible input for learners (Williams 1993, 2005; Wang and Ma 2016) and those that have evaluated ideologies or taken-for-granted social assumptions that are subtly embedded in textbooks, consciously or unconsciously, and that tend to shape the sociocultural outlook and perspectives of learners (e.g. Liu 2005; Gu 2015).

Studies on the representation of ideologies in textbooks have used different analytical approaches, including content analysis, discourse analysis, and critical discourse analysis. For the purpose of this study, we highlight representative studies using these approaches in the Chinese and other Asian educational contexts. Shen (1994), for instance, discusses the change of the images of the United States in geography textbooks in China in terms of content coverage and illustrations, and explores the ideological alignment behind the employment of value-laden words, generation of propaganda as well as the use of one-sided explanation. Based on his content analysis, he notes that textbooks should serve as ‘instruments for liberating rather than enslaving people’ (p. 210). Liu (2005) studies ideology in textbooks from the perspective of critical discourse analysis, examining cultural knowledge and ideology in Chinese textbooks. His study suggests that an elective version of cultural knowledge has been constructed in alignment of the interest of the Chinese government and Chinese élites rather than Chinese children. Liu (2005) also recommends that open discourse should be built to accommodate social changes, students’ voices, and life experience. Xiong and Qian (2012), on the other hand, critically examines ideology in an EFL textbook used by Chinese high school students, identifying three major types of ideologies, viz. selective representation of the history of English, shallow linguistic explanation, and grammatical prescription. Their study suggests a multicultural and cosmopolitan view on the contents of EFL textbooks, rather than taking a one-dimensional, English-dominant perspective. Gu (2015) uses Systemic Functional Linguistics to study three

Japanese history textbooks in both quantitative and qualitative terms. The distribution of evidential categories as well as the occurrence of modal auxiliary verbs and modal nouns are associated with subjective and authorial stance. It is also found that collective and abstract nouns are frequently used, because the compilers of the textbook attempt to disguise the real actor and to orient learners towards a biased interpretation of the historical recounts.

Following these studies, this chapter investigates the representation of ideology in primary school Chinese textbooks, focusing on the kinds of EAVs encoded in the textbooks to subtly shape the orientation of learners towards a particular worldview. This study serves as one of the first studies examining EAV, explicitly defined in the *CCS* and actually realized in the textbooks. The *CCS* is an official curriculum manual which serves as the basis for textbooks and defines the contents of teaching and learning in schools (cf. Luke 1988; Westbury 1990). In 2011, the Chinese Ministry of Education (MOE) issued the latest version of the *CCS*, in which the concept of EAV is first proposed explicitly and officially. The document considers EAV as an integral unit, and never interprets 'emotion, attitude and value' separately. Implementations of EAV are highlighted in the *CCS*, including various circumstances in Chinese education, such as textbook compilation, teacher training, teaching, among others.

Our study interprets the integration of EAVs into the Chinese textbooks for primary schools as an ideological process, serving the interest of the state as a form of social control. In other words, it is the dominant economic, political, and cultural groups that control the legitimate knowledge in textbooks for their own interests (cf. Apple 1999). This study is important in revealing what kind of EAVs are included in the textbooks and their quantitative distribution, and could be a guide for curriculum renewal.

The rest of the chapter is organized as follows. It first discusses the policy of EAV as stated in the *CCS* to contextualize our analysis. Second, it analyzes the various realizations of EAVs in the textbooks. Next, it discusses the practical implications of the EAVs analyzed. The final section concludes the study and gives suggestions for further research.

Emotion, Attitude, and Value in the *Chinese Curriculum Standards*

At the beginning of the *CCS*, reasons for introducing EAV are directly put forward by stating the overall purposes of the standards:

The Chinese curriculum . . . is the bedrock for **shaping correct outlooks on world and life as well as values** for the students, and the foundation for **forming a healthy personality** . . . The Chinese curriculum has its irreplaceable superiority in inheriting and promoting the **excellent Chinese cultural heritage and its revolutionary tradition**, enhancing **cultural identity**, as well as strengthening **national cohesive forces and creative power**

(MOE 2012: 1 translated and highlighted by the authors).

Moreover, the cultivation of EAV is regarded as inseparable from language proficiency (MOE 2012; Working Committee of Experts on Textbooks for Basic Educational Curriculum of the MOE 2012). According to the *CCS*, the education of Chinese language is expected to include the following ideological components, namely Chinese excellent cultural heritage and revolutionary tradition, the socialist core value system, the ideal of socialism with Chinese characteristics, national spirit focusing on patriotism, the spirit of the time that focused on reform and innovation, socialist concepts of honor and disgrace as well as ideological and moral qualifications. As a result, Chinese textbooks have integrated such instrumental and humanistic features

(MOE 2012). On the one hand, instrumental means that Chinese textbooks should function as instruments to provide students with opportunities to practice their language skills. On the other hand, humanistic means that Chinese textbooks should include information about human culture and political ideology.

In the CCS, 10 suggestions are provided for textbook authors to follow, among which the following two are closely related to the promotion of EAV:

- (i) Textbooks should reflect characteristics of modern thinking, pay attention to reality, mankind, and nature, understand and respect cultural diversity, and help students to **shape correct values and outlooks on world and life**.
- (ii) Textbooks should inherit and promote the **excellent Chinese culture** and **revolutionary tradition**, and help **enhance the students' national dignity and patriotic emotion** (MOE 2012: 32 translated and highlighted by the authors).

Therefore, to follow the guidelines, texts on Chinese culture and revolutionary tradition must be included in Chinese textbooks. For instance, texts reflecting Chinese culture include 'Confucius Acknowledging His Teacher' (孔子拜师), 'Pangu Creating the Universe' (盘古开天地), etc. For texts on revolutionary tradition, stories of political leaders and revolutionary martyrs are frequently selected, such as 'Studying for a Prosperous and Rising China' (为中华之崛起而读书), 'Five Heroes on Langya Mountain' (狼牙山五壮士) and 'Chairman Mao at Huashan' (毛主席在花山).

The political leaders' stories demand students to learn from, to love and to respect the leaders, who are depicted as extremely friendly persons with high moral standards. In 'Grandpa Deng Xiaoping Planting Trees' (邓小平爷爷植树), students learn about how Deng Xiaoping, the former general secretary of the Communist Party of China, works diligently to plant a sapling as well as how the tree has grown up and has been well protected, thus reflecting Deng's love of nature, his wish of protecting the environment, and people's admiration of party leaders and the Communist Party of China. Further, in the text, Deng is frequently referred to as 'Grandpa Deng' (邓爷爷), which shortens the distance between the political leader and common students.

Stories of revolutionary martyrs, on the other hand, relate how revolutionary martyrs sacrificed their lives for the nation. In 'Wang Erxiao' (王二小), students learn about the heroic deeds of Wang Erxiao—a member of Children's Corps who led the Japanese invaders to the Eighth Route Army's ambush and was killed by the enemy. Students are thus encouraged to learn from him and sacrifice their lives for the nation when necessary. The brutality of the Japanese enemies is meanwhile depicted; students are thus educated to hate the Japanese, who invaded China.

Realizations of Emotion, Attitude, and Value in Primary School Chinese Textbooks

As previously stated, the CCS consider EAV as an integral unit. Therefore, when categorizing EAV, we will not separate the three from each other. Our data include all 12 volumes of Chinese textbooks for students from Grade 1 to Grade 6, published by the People's Education Press, with 894 texts in total. Choosing these textbooks will not undermine the value of the results for the following reasons. First, the Chinese textbooks published in mainland China are ideologically similar, as they have undergone strict censorship exercised by the government to ensure that they promote the values required and are ideologically correct (see Wong (2018) for the nature and process of book censorship in mainland China). Second, those textbooks are compiled by strictly following the CCS, and have thus passed the national censorship. Third,

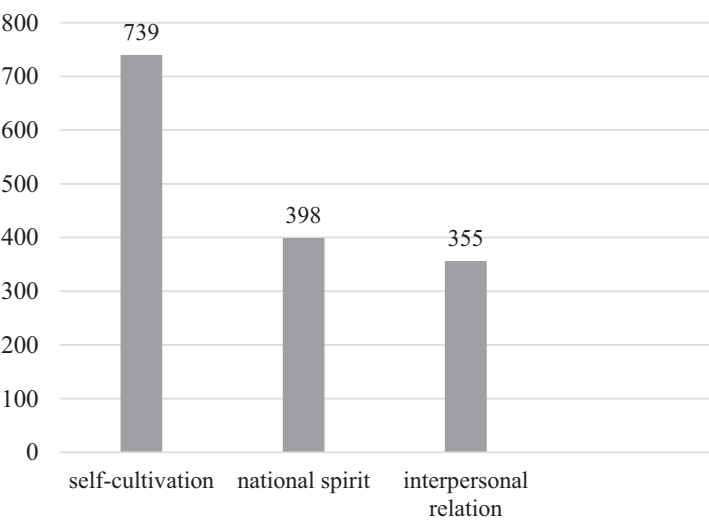


Figure 24.1 Frequency of the three categories of EAV

People’s Education Press is one of the most influential textbook publishing houses in China, whose textbooks are used extensively in most provinces.

During the analysis, each text will be analyzed separately to identify the EAVs. One text may include several EAVs. For example, ‘The Only Audience’ (唯一的听众) tells a story of how an inexperienced young violinist is encouraged by his only audience—a ‘deaf’ old lady to practice hard. In the end, the young man becomes a better violinist, and the old lady turns out to be a renowned professor of music who pretends to be deaf. The EAVs here include ‘helping others’ and ‘diligence’. ‘Helping others’ is identified because of the old lady’s generous encouragement to the young man, and ‘diligence’ is identified due to the young man’s hard work.

As Figure 24.1 shows, we found 32 types of EAVs, which fall into three broad categories, i.e. self-cultivation, national spirit, and interpersonal relation. Some EAVs are general, and can be found in textbooks around the world; some are specific in the Chinese context, such as ‘love of the party’ and ‘collectivism’, promoting certain ideologies of the Communist Party of China. The total frequency of EAVs is 1,492, which is a reflection of their pervasiveness in textbooks. It is interesting that ‘self-cultivation’ (739) stands out as the dominant EAV in the textbooks, occurring almost as frequently as the ‘national spirit’ (398) and ‘interpersonal relation’ (355) combined. Thus, the textbooks tend to put more emphasis on personal fulfillment compared to communism and nationalism. This is surprising, given China’s commitment to socialism and communist ideals and the emphasis by the CCS on ‘students’ national dignity’ and ‘patriotic emotion’. On the other hand, however, ‘love of nature’ is recorded as the highest specific EAV for ‘self-cultivation’, recording 209 (28.3% of 739)—see further below for discussion.

Self-Cultivation

Among all EAVs within the category of self-cultivation (see Table 24.1), ‘love of nature’ has the largest frequency, while ‘safety’ has the smallest. These EAVs are related to the students’ moral integrity as well as their life at home and at school. Table 24.1 shows which EAVs are emphasized and which are neglected.

Table 24.1 EAVs from the perspective of self-cultivation

EAV	Example	Frequency	Percentage
love of nature	'Grandpa Earth's Hands' (地球爷爷的手)	209	28.3%
determination	'Drawing Eggs' (画鸡蛋)	102	13.8%
scientific exploration	'Edison Saving His Mother' (爱迪生救妈妈)	95	12.9%
diligence	'What I Want Is the Gourd' (我要的是葫芦)	73	9.9%
love of learning	'Ask when You Don't Understand' (不懂就要问)	51	6.9%
careful observation	'Drawing Carambola' (画杨桃)	44	6%
participation of extracurricular activities	'The Autumn Outing' (秋游)	40	5.4%
honesty	'I'm Proud of You' (我为你骄傲)	24	3.2%
independence	'The Man in Our Family' (我们家的男子汉)	17	2.3%
social morality	'A Beautiful Pathway' (美丽的小路)	15	2%
trustworthiness	'I Cannot Break My Word' (我不能失信)	14	1.9%
collectivism	'The Bridge' (桥)	11	1.5%
farsightedness	'Think What Others Never Thought' (想别人没想到的)	9	1.2%
obedience	'Not Good to Do This' (这样做不好)	9	1.2%
righteousness	'Enlightenment of Fishing' (钓鱼的启示)	9	1.2%
modesty	'The Painter and the Cowherd' (画家和牧童)	6	0.8%
confidence	'The Ugly Duckling' (丑小鸭)	6	0.8%
safety	'The Blossom of Wisdom' (智慧之花)	5	0.7%

'Love of nature' is found in textbooks of all grades, especially from Grade 1 to 4, and is realized by various texts, including fairy tales, novels, essays, and poems. The topics are of a wide range, such as sceneries (e.g. 'Landscape of Guilin' 桂林山水), landscapes (e.g. 'Thinking Back to the Double Dragon Cave in Jinhua' 忆金华的双龙洞), knowledge about nature (e.g. 'The Sun' 太阳), and ones' experiences of approaching nature (e.g. 'Father and the Bird' 父亲和鸟). For poems, we find both classical poems such as Meng Haoran's (孟浩然) 'Dawn of Spring' (春晓), and modern poems such as 'The Drifting Autumn Leaves' (秋叶飘飘). In addition, specific units on nature or environmental protection are also found in textbooks from Grade 1 to Grade 4, revealing the significance of this EAV.

'Determination', 'scientific exploration', 'diligence', 'love of learning', 'careful observation', and 'participation of extracurricular activities' all concern with students' performance at school, and encourage students to work harder to make their dreams come true. Some texts realize several EAVs simultaneously. For instance, 'The Chinese Flying Dream' (炎黄飞天梦), which is a modern poem celebrating the success of manned space mission in China, has realized the EAVs of 'scientific exploration', 'diligence' and 'determination'. 'Two Iron Balls Landing Together' (两个铁球同时着地) describes Galileo's experiment of dropping two iron balls from the Leaning Tower of Pisa, and realizes 'scientific exploration' and 'determination'. Among all these six EAVs, 'determination' has the largest frequency; and in contrary to 'love of nature', which is emphasized from Grade 1 to 4, 'determination' is highlighted in Grade 4, 5, and 6, with relatively larger frequencies being found in textbooks of these three grades. For the other five EAVs, their distributions are even among textbooks of all grades.

Seven EAVs, namely 'honesty', 'independence', 'trustworthiness', 'farsightedness', 'righteousness', 'modesty', and 'confidence' are related to students' moral integrity and personality. They have small frequencies and are randomly distributed in the textbooks. Thus, scholars like Cao

Wenxuan (2013) emphasizes the importance of these EAVs in Chinese teaching, and demands an increase of their proportions in textbooks. In our data, these EAVs are mostly realized by literary texts, such as ‘The Kid Holding an Empty Flowerpot’ (手捧空花盆的孩子) that tells the story of how a boy honestly reports to the king that his seeds cannot sprout and realizes the EAV of ‘honesty’.

‘Collectivism’ and ‘obedience’ are two EAVs that aim to educate students as screws in the state machinery or successors who do not think independently. These two EAVs are seen in textbooks of all grades, but with a small frequency. Such texts tell students to listen to other’s advice, to stay in groups, or to sacrifice themselves for the group when necessary. For example, ‘The Bridge’ (桥), which realizes ‘collectivism’, is a sad story of how a party secretary forbids his son to escape from a flood in order to let other villagers retreat first, and eventually sacrifices both their lives. As criticized by Li (2006), students are in this way never regarded as individuals who have independent consciousness and abilities to make their own choices; he further comments that these EAVs are contradictory to the significance of education, which is to enlighten the individual and to instruct them to grasp their own fate.

Five instances of ‘safety’ are found, which is a very small frequency compared to those of other EAVs, despite the significance of safety to students. Among the texts found, ‘Life’ (生命) emphasizes the importance of life; ‘The Blossom of Wisdom’ (智慧之花) tells a story of how several boys got an electric shock are saved by a girl; ‘Fun with Chinese’ (趣味语文) cites an advertisement in Malaysia, informing students about the danger of exceeding the speed limit while driving.

National Spirit

National spirit means that the EAVs are related to ones’ feelings toward the nation. Table 24.2 tabulates these EAVs, with examples and frequencies being provided. The top most frequent EAVs here include ‘patriotism’ (158) and ‘Chinese culture’ (132), followed by ‘love of the party’ (44) and ‘national unification’ (34). Texts on ‘love of homeland’ (23), and ‘love of peace’ (7) are the least frequent.

‘Patriotism’ is most frequently found. It is realized in texts on the following topics: (i) how revolutionary martyrs sacrificed their lives for the People’s Republic of China (PRC), such as texts on the revolutionary tradition discussed previously; (ii) glories and contributions of China, such as ‘We Have Succeeded’ (我们成功了), which describes the successful bid of the 2008 Olympics; (iii) biographies of the famous Chinese, such as ‘Zhan Tianyou’ (詹天佑), the first Chinese engineer who built railways in China; (iv) territory of China, such as ‘Hong Kong—A Bright Pearl’ (香港, 璀璨的明珠); (v) beauty of the Chinese landscape, such as ‘The Fascinating Zhangjiajie’ (迷人的张家界); (vi) historical events in the Chinese history such as ‘The

Table 24.2 EAVs from the perspective of national spirit

EAV	Example	Frequency	Percentage
patriotism	‘I Love My Motherland’ (我爱祖国)	158	40%
Chinese culture	‘Distinctive Civilian Houses’ (各具特色的民居)	132	33%
love of the party	‘To Serve the People’ (为人民服务)	44	11%
national unification	‘Hong Kong—A Bright Pearl’ (香港, 璀璨的明珠)	34	8%
love of homeland	‘Thoughts in a Quiet Night’ (静夜思)	23	6%
love of peace	‘Voice of a Chinese Child’ (一个中国孩子的呼声)	7	2%

Founding Ceremony' (开国大典), which signals the founding of the PRC. Throughout the 12 volumes of textbooks, 'I Really Want to Go and Have a Look' (我多想去看看) is the first text in Grade 1 that realizes 'patriotism', through which the narrator expresses his burning desire to go to Beijing, where the flag-raising ceremony is held at Tian'anmen Square every day. By introducing the capital and the national flag, the patriotic feeling is expressed in the form of a poem. Moreover, in terms of chronological development, we can see that 'patriotism' starts to appear from Grade 1, with nine instances being found; its frequency then gradually increases and reaches its peak in Grade 5, with an occurrence of 47. In Grade 6, the frequency of 'patriotism' also remains high.

In addition, the realization of 'patriotism' is different in textbooks of various grades. In Grade 1 and 2, the texts are brief introductions to the PRC, such as the capital, the 56 nationalities and the different provinces; multimodal resources are frequently adopted, with pictures that reflect 'patriotism' being provided, such as pictures of Tian'anmen, the national flag, the minorities, and Premier Zhou Enlai's participation in the Water-Sprinkling Festival of the Dai nationality. In Grade 3 and 4, stories of political leaders and introductions to scenic spots are found, such as 'Studying for a Prosperous and Rising China' (为中华之崛起而读书), which tells the story of how young Zhou Enlai was determined to study hard for the nation, and 'The Fascinating Zhangjiajie' (迷人的张家界). In Grade 5 and 6, the revolutionary feelings have become more intense, with stories of revolutionary martyrs such as 'Five Heroes on Langya Mountain' (狼牙山五壮士) and 'A Get-together in Prison' (狱中联欢) being selected.

As another prominent EAV, 'Chinese culture' is seen in texts of various kinds, including: (i) famous classical Chinese poems such as 'On Goose' (咏鹅) by Luo Binwang (骆宾王); (ii) stories of Chinese history or historical figures such as 'Sima Guang' (司马光) and 'Confucius Acknowledging His Teacher' (孔子拜师); (iii) stories of Chinese idioms, which not only inform students how to use the idioms, but also contain Chinese culture and the philosophy of life, like 'Lying by the Tree and Waiting for the Rabbit' (守株待兔) that teaches students to be diligent; (iv) achievements of the Chinese, such as 'The Great Wall' (长城); (v) classical novels, such as 'The Birth of Monkey King' (猴王出世) from *Journey to the West* (西游记); (vi) introductions of the Chinese folk customs, like 'Spring Festival in Beijing' (北京的春节). Chronologically, 'Chinese culture' appears in textbooks of all grades. A gradual increase is seen from Grade 1 to Grade 6, with additions from 12 instances in Grade 1 to 30 in Grade 3 and 33 in Grade 5. The reason for such increase is the introduction of more varied kinds of texts in senior grades, such as texts on the Chinese achievements and idiom stories in Grade 3 as well as classical novels in Grade 5.

In terms of frequency, a smaller number of texts are characterized with 'love of the party' compared to those with 'patriotism' and 'Chinese culture'. We have found that 'love of the party' is especially realized in texts on the revolutionary martyrs and political leaders, which are seen in textbooks from Grade 1 to Grade 4. However, in Grade 5 and 6, the amount of such texts have been increased to 16, as some texts are stories like 'The Whole Green Hill Is the Sepulcher of Martyrs' (青山处处埋忠骨), 'The Founding Ceremony' (开国大典), which depict the hardship of founding the PRC and the sacrifice of the martyrs. For instance, 'The Military God' (军神) depicts an operation that Liu Bochong (刘伯承), a marshal of the People's Liberation Army, received to excise one of his eyeballs, while Liu insisted that no anaesthetization should be applied to prevent side effects, as he needed to be sober-minded to prepare for the future wars. In this way, Liu is depicted as an unyielding figure, who dedicates himself to the founding of the nation.

'National unification' is closely associated with certain regions in China, including Taiwan, Hong Kong, Xinjiang, and Tibet. Texts realizing this EAV are of the following types: (i) description of such regions or certain scenic spots, such as 'Sun Moon Lake' (日月潭) in Taiwan, 'Grape

Valley' (葡萄沟) in Xinjiang and 'The Ancient City of Lhasa' (拉萨古城) in Tibet; (ii) historical events, such as 'Princess Wencheng Arriving Tibet' (文成公主进藏); (iii) fictional stories that emphasize the integrity of the nation, such as 'An Unforgettable Lesson' (难忘的一课), which informs students how patriotism is taught in schools in Taiwan, and 'Colorful Wings' (彩色的翅膀) that tells a story of how soldiers stationed in Paracel Islands keep bees to pollinate the fruit they grow, emphasizing that the islands are also part of China; (iv) introductions to minority customs, e.g. 'Tibetan Opera' (藏戏) and 'Distinctive Civilian Houses' (各具特色的民居). It is also found that when Taiwan is mentioned in textbooks, it tends to be referred to as a province, which is one integrated part of China. Therefore, at the beginning of 'Sun Moon Lake' (日月潭), we find the following sentence: 'Sun Moon Lake is the biggest lake of Taiwan Province in our country' (日月潭是我国台湾省最大的一个湖). Without knowing the historical background and the cross-strait relations, students may only have partial understandings about Taiwan and national reunification. Moreover, the help from the government to the minorities is also emphasized, such as in 'Our Minority Primary School' (我们的民族小学) where descriptions of the beautiful campuses of ethnic primary schools are found. In terms of frequency, EAVs of 'national unification' are especially found in Grade 2, Grade 5, and Grade 6, with eight instances in each textbook.

In texts realizing 'love of homeland', one's emotion to hometown is openly stated. These texts include: (i) classical Chinese poems that express the poets' nostalgia, e.g. 'Thoughts in a Quiet Night' (静夜思) by Li Bai (李白), 'A Poem on Home Coming' (回乡偶书) by He Zhizhang (贺知章) and 'Anchoring at Guazhou' (泊船瓜洲) by Wang Anshi (王安石); (ii) essays describing the scenic spots or specialty in one's hometown, such as 'Pearl Spring' (珍珠泉) and 'I Love the Waxberry in My Hometown' (我爱故乡的杨梅); (iii) recollections of childhood memories, e.g. 'Rain of Osmanthus' (桂花雨). These texts are more frequently found in Grade 3 and Grade 5 textbooks, where two units on homesickness are compiled. In textbooks of other grades, there is a very small number of such texts.

Seven texts realizing 'love of peace' are only found in the second volume of Grade 4 textbook, in which there is a unit on war and peacekeeping. These texts, such as 'Voice of a Chinese Child' (一个中国孩子的呼声), have emphasized the necessity of peacekeeping and depicted the miserable life of children in war-torn countries. Also, the happy life of children in China is highlighted, such as in 'Enjoy the Spring as We Do' (和我们一样享受春天).

Interpersonal Relation

The EAVs within this category serve as instructions and guidelines for students to get along with others. In Table 24.3, we quantify these EAVs and rank them according to their frequencies. 'Helping others' is the most frequent one, with a total frequency of 116; while 'love of school' is the least frequent, with only two instances being found. Besides, 'friendship', 'love of family', and 'collaboration' also have relatively large occurrences.

'Helping others' is promoted in textbooks of all grades, with similar frequencies ranging from 15 to 23. These texts are mostly realized by stories and poems. The stories can be fairy tales such as 'Snow Kid' (雪孩子), historical stories such as 'Ximen Bao' (西门豹), and legendary tales such as 'Ma Liang the Magic Painter' (神笔马良). For instance, in 'Don't Starve that Horse' (别饿坏了那匹马), the narrator tells a story of how he was helped by a disabled young man, who pretended to have a horse and bought forage from the narrator everyday. For poems, they are all of the modern type with no rhyme, telling stories of how little friends help each other while climbing a mountain as in 'Walking Mountainous Roads' (走山路), or expressing a kid's wish to help others as in 'If' (假如). In addition, there are also tasks, such as 'What Should He Do'

Table 24.3 EAVs from the perspective of interpersonal relation

EAV	Example	Frequency	Percentage
helping others	'A Sweater' (一件运动衫)	116	33%
friendship	'For Wang Lun' (赠汪伦)	79	22%
love of family	'Song of a Wanderer' (游子吟)	66	19%
collaboration	'The Unforgettable Laughter' (忘不了的笑声)	53	15%
respect to teachers	'A Letter to the Teacher' (给老师的一封信)	16	4.5%
mutual learning	'The Painter and the Cowherd' (画家和牧童)	12	3%
respect to others	'From Now on' (从现在开始)	11	3%
love of school	'Which House is the Most Beautiful' (哪座房子最漂亮)	2	0.5%

(该怎么办) for students to discuss whether the boy should keep the money after helping an old grandpa pick up milk.

'Friendship' and 'love of family' are found in textbooks of all grades, with relatively higher frequencies. For 'love of family', its frequency is high in Grade 1, 3, and 5, as there are specific units on this topic. Both two types of EAVs are realized by stories and poems. The stories are mostly fictional, such as 'Mum's Bill' (妈妈的账单) that discusses whether a boy should ask for money from his mother after doing housework; whereas there are also essays based on true feelings such as Ji Xianlin's (季羡林) 'In Memory of My Mother' (怀念母亲) that expresses his love to his late mother. Both classical and modern poems are found, such as Li Bai's 'For Wang Lun' (赠汪伦) that compares the deep friendship to the water pond, 'Pingping Piling up the Blocks' (平平搭积木) that expresses a kid's wish of building a large house for his family.

The frequencies of 'collaboration' are similar in textbooks of all grades. It is mostly realized by 'Oral Communication' (口语交际) and 'Practice' (习作), two kinds of tasks found at the end of each unit. According to the requirements of these tasks, students should cooperate with each other based on what they have learned throughout the units. There are also stories that realize these two EAVs, but are with limited frequencies. For instance, in 'You'll plant trees, he'll earth up, I'll lift the water' (你栽树, 他培土, 我去提水。), which is a short text aims for Grade 1 students to practice the 'ai', 'ei' and 'ui' sounds, students are told to collaborate while planting trees.

'Respect to teachers' and 'respect to others' are both promoted in textbooks from Grade 2 to Grade 6, with similar but small frequencies. On the one hand, in terms of 'respect to teachers', a section on this EAV is found in Grade 6, involving texts like 'My Best Teacher' (我最好的老师) and 'The Unforgettable Enlightenment' (难忘的启蒙), through which narrators share their memories about their teachers. On the other hand, texts realizing 'respect to others' are mostly fictional, which tend to be fairy tales with animals as protagonists. For example, in 'From Now on' (从现在开始), the lion, who is the king of the forest, wishes to find his successor from the other animals. Under the owl and the kangaroo's reign, however, they do not respect the other animals, and ask all animals to behave like them, i.e. to sleep at day time or jump from time to time. When it is the monkey's turn, he respects every individual, and is thus crowned to be the king.

By the same token, 'mutual learning' is also promoted from Grade 2 to Grade 6, but with a very small frequency. It is found in 'Practice' (习作), 'Oral Communication' (口语交际), and 'Communication Platform' (交流平台), which are tasks that require students to learn from each other. Besides, 'mutual learning' is also realized in stories such as 'The Camel and the Goat' (骆驼和羊) and 'Confucius Acknowledging His Teacher' (孔子拜师).

For ‘love of school’, only two instances are found. One is a poem titled ‘Which House Is the Most Beautiful’ (哪座房子最漂亮), which describes the layout of a primary school. The other is a writing task—‘Practice’ (习作) in Grade 4, which requires students to write an essay and express their love of school.

Emotions, Attitudes, and Values in Practice

In this section, we will discuss some side effects of the EAVs in practice. Our discussion here focuses on three aspects, i.e. (i) ‘patriotism’ and the ‘patriotic thieves’ (爱国贼), (ii) ‘interpersonal relation’ and the abuse of power in classroom, (iii) promotion of certain EAVs and the distortion of facts in Chinese textbooks.

‘Patriotism’, as one of the most frequently found EAVs in this study, plays a dominant role in Chinese textbooks. Starting from Grade 1, students are all told to love their country. However, if patriotism is taught in an unreasonable way, students can potentially become ‘patriotic thieves’ after growing up. ‘Patriotic thief’, which is a popular vocabulary in recent years, refers to people who pretend to be patriotic but instead cause harm to the society (Wang 2010). In history, ‘patriotic thieves’ encompass both the boxers (义和团) who killed civilians and embassy officials in the Qing Dynasty as well as the red guards (红卫兵) who denounced and killed the innocents. Violence has always been their means of being patriotic, and the traditional Chinese values are devastated by their ‘patriotic’ actions. For instance, in 2012, a driver of a Japanese car was severely injured by a ‘patriotic thief’ during an anti-Japanese protest. ‘Patriotic thieves’ are also found online, exerting their violence verbally by using language in online posts like ‘repost if you are Chinese’ (是中国人就转) and ‘you are not Chinese if you do not repost’ (不转不是中国人).

In spite of the emphasis of EAVs focusing on interpersonal relation in Chinese textbooks and the promotion of politeness as an essential quality for Chinese students (see Writing Group of the *Regulations for Primary and Middle School Students* 2015), campus violence is still frequently seen in China. In another study (Wang and Ma 2019), we analyze the student leaders’ linguistic choices by which they abuse their power and boss around using bad and impolite language to speak down to their colleagues, thereby disregarding all their knowledge of interpersonal relations learned at school. We suggest that more lessons on politeness, friendship and respect should be taught practically and directly in classrooms rather than only allowing learners to infer these EAVs on their own from their reading lessons.

In addition, we have also found that various texts in Chinese textbooks do not correspond to facts. In order to propose certain EAVs, authors of textbooks have made up several stories, which become the ‘lies’ in textbooks (cf. Zhou 2010). A frequently cited example is ‘Edison Saving His Mother’ (爱迪生救妈妈), which is a story about how the 7-year-old Thomas Edison saved his mother by converging lamp lights with mirrors during an emergent appendectomy done at home, with EAVs of ‘scientific exploration’ and ‘love of family’ being promoted. However, the fact is that the first appendectomy only came true in 1886 when Edison was already 40 years old. Textbook writers can employ more ingenious ways of encoding desirable EAVs in textbooks without distorting historical and scientific facts for young learners, since this situation could lead to mistrust among learners during their growth when they are not yet able to critically evaluate information for themselves.

Conclusion

In this chapter, we have examined the EAVs in the CCS and the realizations of EAVs in primary school textbooks for the learning of Chinese. We have categorized the EAVs identified into

three broad types, namely self-cultivation, national spirit, and interpersonal relation. In addition, delicate categories of the EAVs within the three types are also identified, with a quantitative profile being provided, showing the general tendency of EAVs throughout the six years of primary school education. We have regarded the imbalanced occurrences of the EAVs as a matter of probability. Some EAVs, such as ‘patriotism’, ‘Chinese culture’, and ‘love of nature’ tend to be more prominent, thus having a very high frequency in the data. Some EAVs, such as ‘safety’ and ‘love of school’ are often ignored, with very limited number of instances being found. We suggest that emphasis should not only be given to EAVs like ‘safety’, but also to other qualities essential for students’ integrated development, such as independent thinking, critical skills, personality development, and psychological health (cf. Cao 2013).

As one of the first preliminary studies to categorize EAVs in Chinese textbooks, the content analysis and description here focus on the going-on in texts, and can be considered as analysis from the perspective of field of activity (Matthiessen 2006), which is one of the three parameters of context, the other two being mode and tenor (cf. Halliday 1996). Further research can be carried out to identify how EAVs are textualized in the textbooks by the combination of various semiotic modes such as verbal text and images (i.e. mode), or to closely examine how desirable interpersonal relations are modeled in the textbooks for children (i.e. tenor). Also, due to the constraint of word limit, we merely introduce all categories of EAVs, rather than providing an in-depth analysis of all of them. Future studies may focus on one or several EAVs and further take text types that realize these EAVs as well as lexicogrammatical features into consideration, and relate descriptions of context to analysis of lexicogrammar (cf. Liu 2005).

Acronyms in this Chapter

CCS Chinese Curriculum Standards

EAV emotion, attitude, and value

MOE Ministry of Education of the People’s Republic of China

PRC People’s Republic of China

References

English References

- Apple, M. W. (1999) *Power, Meaning, and Identity: Essays in Critical Education Studies*. New York: Peter Lang.
- Gu, X. (2015) ‘Evidentiality, subjectivity and ideology in the Japanese history textbook’. *Discourse & Society* 26(1): 29–51.
- Halliday, M. A. K. (1996) ‘On grammar and grammatics’. In R. Hasan, C. Cloran and David Butt (eds.), *Functional Descriptions: Theory into Practice*, 1–38. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Liu, Y. (2005) ‘Discourse, cultural knowledge and ideology: A critical analysis of Chinese language textbooks’. *Pedagogy, Culture and Society* 13(2): 233–263.
- Luke, A. (1988) *Literacy, Textbooks and Ideology: Postwar Literacy Instruction and the Mythology of Dick and Jane*. Cambridge: Polity Press.
- Matthiessen, C. M. I. M. (2006) ‘Meaning in the making: Meaning potential emerging from acts of meaning’. *Language Learning* 59(Suppl. 1): 206–229.
- Shen, J. (1994) ‘Ideological management in textbooks: A study of the changing image of the United States in China’s geography textbooks’. *Theory and Research in Social Education* 22(2): 194–214.
- Wang, B. and Ma, Y. (2016) ‘A survey of studies on teaching systemic functional grammar’. In *Proceedings of the Fifth Northeast Asia International Symposium on Language, Literature and Translation*, 14–19. Marietta: The American Scholars Press.

- Wang, B. and Ma, Y. (2019) 'Authoritative classroom discourse: The abuse of power in a Chinese classroom'. In C. Shei (ed.), *The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Discourse Analysis*, 364–376. London and New York: Routledge.
- Westbury, I. (1990) 'Instructional materials in the twentieth century'. In S. C. de Castell, A. Luke and C. Luke (eds.), *Textbooks and Schooling in the United States*, 1–22. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.
- Williams, G. (1993) 'Using systemic grammar in teaching young learners: An introduction'. In L. Unsworth (ed.), *Literacy Learning and Teaching: Language as Social Practice in the Primary School*, 197–253. South Melbourne: Macmillan.
- Williams, G. (2005) 'Grammatics in schools'. In R. Hasan, C. Matthiessen and J. Webster (eds.), *Continuing Discourse on Language: A Functional Perspective (Volume 1)*, 281–310. London: Equinox.
- Wong, M. (2018) 'Censorship and translation in mainland China: General practice and a case study'. In C. Shei and Z. Gao (eds.), *The Routledge Handbook of Chinese Translation*, 221–243. London and New York: Routledge.
- Xiong, T. and Qian, Y. (2012) 'Ideologies of English in a Chinese high school EFL textbook: A critical discourse analysis'. *Asia Pacific Journal of Education* 32(1): 75–92.

Chinese References

- Cao, Wenxuan 曹文轩 (2013) '对一份完美的“新课标”的畅想' (The outlook for a perfect curriculum standard). *课程教材教法* (Curriculum, Teaching Material and Method) 33(10): 34–40.
- Li, Zugui 李祖贵 (2006) '魂兮归来—试论当代语文教育的价值取向与教材建设' (Return of the spirit: On the value orientation and textbook compilation in contemporary Chinese education). *语文学习* (Chinese Learning) 6: 10–12.
- MOE 中华人民共和国教育部 (2012) 义务教育语文课程标准 (2011年版) (CCS for Nine-year Compulsory Education: 2011 Version). Beijing: Beijing Normal University Press.
- Wang, Canlong 王灿龙 (2010) '褒词贬用—谈“爱国贼”' (A commendatory word used in a derogatory sense: On 'patriotic thief'). *语文建设* (Language Building) 4: 37–38.
- Working Committee of Experts on Textbooks for Basic Educational Curriculum of the MOE 教育部基础教育课程专家工作委员会 (2012) 义务教育语文课程标准 (2011年版) 解读 (Interpretation of the 2011 Version of CCS for Nine-year Compulsory Education). Beijing: Higher Education Press.
- Writing Group of the *Regulations for Primary and Middle School Students* 中小学生守则编写组 (2015) 中小学生守则 (Regulations for Primary and Middle School Students). Nanjing: Jiangsu People's Publishing House.
- Zhou, Kaili 周凯莉 (2010) '小学语文教科书中藏有多少“谎言”' (How many 'lies' are hidden in primary school Chinese textbooks). *发现* (Discovery) 1: 48–50.

Further Readings

- MOE 中华人民共和国教育部 (2012) 义务教育语文课程标准 (2011年版) (CCS for Nine-year Compulsory Education: 2011 Version), Beijing: Beijing Normal University Press.
This pamphlet is the official document formulated by the MOE. It serves as the guideline for teaching Chinese to primary and middle school students as well as Chinese textbook compilation in mainland China.
- Liu, Y. (2005) 'Discourse, cultural knowledge and ideology: A critical analysis of Chinese language textbooks'. *Pedagogy, Culture and Society* 13(2): 233–263.
By adopting the framework of critical curriculum theory and critical discourse analysis, this paper explores the construal of cultural knowledge and ideology in Chinese primary school textbooks.
- Gu, X. (2015) 'Evidentiality, subjectivity and ideology in the Japanese history textbook'. *Discourse & Society* 26(1): 29–51.
Drawing on Systemic Functional Linguistics, this paper examines evidentiality, subjectivity, and ideology in three Japanese history textbooks based on detailed lexicogrammatical analysis.

The Assessment of Chinese L2 Proficiency

Paula Winke and Wenyue Melody Ma

Introduction

In this chapter, we overview Chinese proficiency testing first by defining proficiency in standardized, broad terms. We then describe national and international descriptions and levels of proficiency, and how those various descriptions and levels relate to one other. We then discuss how proficiency in Chinese language programs can be tested. We describe some of the major, commonly used Chinese language proficiency tests that exist on the market (e.g. ACTFL tests, the HSK), and discuss how and why various programs use some of the existing tests to measure proficiency in their programs and what information the tests scores provide. Essential to this discussion is how programs determine and set their program-specific proficiency goals. We show-case how different programs do this, and we discuss some of the programs' issues in doing so. We also review empirical research studies in which the authors used Chinese proficiency tests, and we explain how proficiency testing can promote proficiency development. We end with pedagogical implications and suggestions on how Chinese language programs can implement proficiency testing to measure proficiency levels, proficiency gains, and proficiency growth in Chinese language programs.

Chinese Language Proficiency

Chinese as a second or foreign-language instruction has increased exponentially around the world in the last 20 years, and this tremendous growth in Chinese language instruction has concomitantly increased the need for tests of Chinese as a second language (Zhang 2017). Included within the increased demand for Chinese language tests is a need for tests of Chinese language proficiency, which is a certain type of assessment separate from formative, summative, or achievement testing (assessments that measure whether what was taught was learned). Before describing how Chinese language proficiency is tested, we first outline what language proficiency entails.

Language proficiency, in general, can be defined in multiples ways. One way to define proficiency broadly is 'the ability to carry out a large variety of tasks in the language' (National Standards in Foreign Language Education Project/NSFLEP 2015: 32). According to the NSFLEP,

being proficient in a language means not just knowing the linguistic system of the language (knowing the syntax, morphology, phonology, semantics, and vocabulary of the language), but also knowing the pragmatic, textual, and sociolinguistic aspects of the language. These are needed (p. 32), ‘to achieve communication goals in ways that are appropriate to a particular cultural context’ (Bachman 1990; Bialystok 1981; Canale and Swain 1980; Hymes 1985; Savignon 1983). In other words, people are proficient in a language when they can speak to and are understood by people who know the same language. According to the NSFLEP, language programs endeavor to instill proficiency in their students so that the students can use the language to communicate interpersonally, interpretively, and presentationally across a wide variety of communities, cultures, and contexts.

Principles and Models of Proficiency

In sum, the keys to understanding *proficiency*, broadly construed, are the following:

1. Proficiency is independent of the language program’s curriculum: A person’s *proficiency level* indicates what the person can do in the language in the real world (Brown and Brown 2015).
2. Proficiency develops through a combination of instructed language learning and language use, and is something that should grow (not plateau or decrease) if instruction is being taken up and acted upon (Isbell, Winke and Gass 2018).
3. One of the most accepted models of proficiency is that there is more to learn (there is more lateral growth necessary) at the upper levels of proficiency. This model of proficiency growth is diagrammed by the American Council on the Teaching of Foreign Languages (ACTFL 2012, see Figure 25.1). Proficiency is mapped as a spiralling-up, concentric cone,

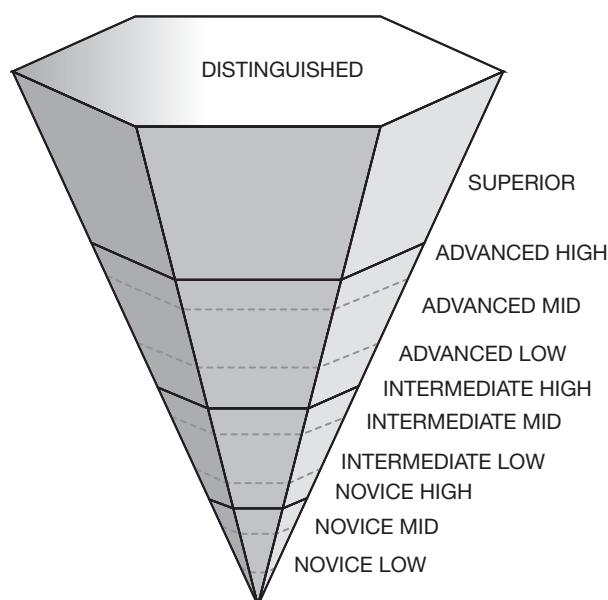


Figure 25.1 ACTFL’s (2012) model of foreign and second-language proficiency.

Source: Reproduced with permission: see www.actfl.org

with the idea that proficiency growth on the ACTFL (2012) scale is fast (with vertical movement up) during the initial years, but slows down at the upper levels of proficiency because more horizontal growth (within and across a proficiency band) needs to occur. Thus, students may remain at a given proficiency band longer at the upper levels than they did at the lower levels.

4. Most theorists posit that high and sustained motivation to learn is a prerequisite for advanced (and beyond) proficiency attainment (Brown and Brown 2015). Other independent factors, such as an early-aged start, high aptitude for language learning, access to good teachers and programs, a solid foundation in how to learn and how to practice (with effective language-learning strategies and high self-efficacy), and time-on-task (using the language outside of class often and in a variety of contexts), contribute to better proficiency growth.

Measuring Chinese Language Proficiency

Situated in the context of Chinese language education specifically, measuring a learner's Chinese language proficiency is to assess what the learner can do in Chinese: that is, how much Chinese the learner comprehends; how difficult and sophisticated the tasks are that the learner can undertake successfully in Chinese; and how complex the socially and culturally grounded situations are within which the Chinese language learner can navigate. Arguably, Chinese proficiency is the foundational skill taught in Chinese language programs and upon which other skills and content-area knowledge are based. Learners who are building their knowledge of the Chinese-speaking world (or learning within that world) cannot deeply learn unless they increase their Chinese proficiency along the way.

Many scales of proficiency exist and are used to describe Chinese language proficiency, including the ACTFL (2012) proficiency scale (which divides proficiency into five levels from Novice through Distinguished). This scale has been translated into both simplified and traditional Chinese, and can be found on the ACTFL website (www.actfl.org/publications/guidelines-and-manuals/actfl-proficiency-guidelines-2012/chinese). An extremely important and Chinese-language-based proficiency scale is the Chinese Language Proficiency Scales for Speakers of Other Languages (国际汉语能力标准 or CLPS, Hanban 2008), which is a set of detailed descriptors developed within China for the teaching of Chinese to speakers of other languages. It has five proficiency levels in six areas, including communicative speaking, communicative writing, listening, presentational speaking, presentational writing, and reading (Teng 2017). Other more language-agnostic scales include the Interagency Language Roundtable (ILR; www.govtilr.org/Skills/), the Council of Europe Framework of References for Languages (CEFR; www.coe.int/en/web/common-european-framework-reference-languages/), and the Canadian Language Benchmarks (CLB; www.language.ca). The ILR scale is a 0 to 5 system, with language learners being able to be assigned a '+' to numbers 0 through 4 if they are approaching the next level up in proficiency, but are unable to sustain that level consistently. The CEFR scale is divided into the levels of basic user (A1 and A2), independent user (B1 and B2), and proficient user (C1 and C2). The CLB scale ranges from 1 to 12. These scales and others have been compared and contrasted (Tschirner 2012; Lu 2017), with reports showing that they can be (very) roughly aligned, but with gaps and overlaps, and with somewhat shifted perspectives. Meanwhile, language-learning organizations have used the international and language-agnostic scales to create language-specific and local proficiency descriptors. For example, in Singapore, a set of (Chinese language) Mother Tongue Language (MTL) proficiency descriptors have been developed as a common reference for the field of Chinese language learning unique to Singapore. As described by Shang and Zhao (2017), to create the MTL scale, the CEFR, ACTFL, and CLPS

proficiency descriptors were closely referenced and served as guides. Shang and Zhao noted that localized descriptions of Chinese proficiency are sometimes needed because international standards for language development may not apply to nonstandard, local language varieties, such as *Huayu*, a modern linguistic variety of Chinese local to Singapore.

In a nutshell, all of the proficiency scales were created to meet real-world needs. For example, Hanban's CLPS scale was created to help guide the development of Chinese language curricula around the world and to classify Chinese language learners along proficiency continua regardless of the learner's native language (Teng 2017). The ACTFL and ILR scales were originally created to 'appropriately assign language learners to foreign language-dependent jobs that required various linguistic skill' (Cox, Malone and Winke 2018). Nowadays, the scales are used to qualify language proficiency through evaluative measures. Test results reported out on the scales can be used for a variety of purposes, such as to measure proficiency outcomes, to track proficiency development over time, and to support high-quality teaching in proficiency-based programs.

Within proficiency bands, proficiency is often further defined as a series of more elaborate can-do statements (see ACTFL 2017; Little and Perclová 2001; Moeller, Theiler and Wu 2012). Can-do statements describe more concrete tasks that can normally be accomplished by learners who are at that level of proficiency, such as, 'I can tell a story about a community event that happened last summer', which would be an Intermediate high task on the ACTFL (2012) scale. For each level of proficiency, there are (or can be) many individual task descriptors (as many as can be imagined). The use of such statements can help teachers set learning goals, shape classroom tasks, and help students be motivated to learn in a way that promotes proficiency development (Moeller, Theiler and Wu 2012). They can also be used as a form of self-assessment, which helps learners understand proficiency and how they are working to build it (Wang 2017). Thus, in addition to standardized proficiency-test use, language programs can use self-assessments, teacher evaluations, and peer evaluations to monitor proficiency growth in their programs.

Chinese Language Program Proficiency Goals

Proficiency tests can be used by programs for many reasons. In a review of empirical research, we found that proficiency tests have been used by language programs for student and teacher selection (Surface and Dierdorff 2003; Glisan, Swender and Surface 2013), for student placement (Li 2014), to diagnose students' learning difficulties (Gatti and O'Neill 2017), for contributing to the measurement of learning progress (Burkhauser et al. 2016; Xu et al. 2012), and for program evaluation (Xu et al. 2012; Burkhauser et al. 2016). Measuring proficiency overall is important because proficiency goals are being set both within language programs and by groups that are, technically, outside of the language programs themselves.

For example, in the United States, many state boards of education have adopted a *proficiency benchmark* for prospective teachers of Chinese: In Michigan (our home state), to be licensed to teach K-12 Chinese, the prospective teacher must first achieve a proficiency score of *Intermediate high* in speaking on the American Council of Teaching of Foreign Languages (ACTFL 2012) Oral Proficiency Interview (OPI) or on its computerized cousin (the OPIc). The state's interpretation of the ACTFL Intermediate high score is that the person is minimally qualified to teach Chinese: The teacher has met a minimum threshold of Chinese speaking ability necessary to perform as a Chinese language teacher. The score says nothing about how good a teacher the person will be (nor how well the individual will be in teaching writing and/or reading), only that the person has met the minimum spoken-language qualification. Whether the benchmark is a good one for teacher certification is debated.

For example, research by Glisan et al. (2013) found that out of 126 Chinese (Mandarin) teacher candidates tested on the ACTFL OPI, 110 ‘passed’ (that is, they reached the standard level of Intermediate high), and 16 ‘failed’ (they did not meet the standard of Intermediate high). But, the researchers noted, it appears that most Mandarin-language teacher candidates were primarily native or heritage speakers of Chinese. If this is true (they noted that robust background variable data was not available, but should be collected in the future), it may indicate that despite the high pass rate, the test-mandate itself may be affecting the overall pool of potential Chinese-teacher candidates. It is possible that those who are not native or heritage speakers are not attempting to seek teacher certification. This was only a speculation that the researchers noted, but if it is true, it may show an unintended consequence of a proficiency testing mandate. Nevertheless, the use of this proficiency descriptor (Intermediate high), the context (Chinese language-teacher certification), and the test to measure it (the ACTFL OPI or OPIc) is a prime example of how and why the assessment of Chinese second language (L2) proficiency is important. Proficiency tests are used in the real world; they impact the real world and real people, and proficiency assessment is a real-world concern that has taken hold in the field of Chinese language teaching (Liu 2017).

A second example of extant proficiency testing is from within Chinese language programs themselves. When programs have proficiency goals, students can take proficiency tests to see if they are meeting the program’s goals (Shang and Zhao 2017). This process can involve establishing or using proficiency benchmarks as a common yardstick, and aligning them with the individual courses or program benchmarks, as described by Shang and Zhao (2017). Next, we describe three US programs that have articulated their proficiency goals in three different ways.

First, a university that has established proficiency benchmarks publicly is Stanford University. It lists on its Language Learning Center website its Chinese program’s proficiency goals for end-of-first-year and end-of-second-year learners of Chinese (see the Chinese curricular documents at <https://language.stanford.edu/academics/proficiency-objectives-and-curricular-documents>). Stanford’s Chinese benchmarks describe what students should be able to do in Chinese by the end of each sequential course within the first two-year curriculum, and these goals are articulated as can-do statements. The curricular goals are based on the NSFLEP’s 2015 *World-Readiness Standards for Learning Languages*, and thus they can be easily linked to ACTFL’s (2012) proficiency scale descriptors and assessed via ACTFL assessments or other proficiency-based assessments. Researchers at Stanford have documented their work in creating the benchmarks for their programs (Bernhardt, Valdes and Miano 2009), and they encourage other language programs to do the same.

Second, many state and district Kindergarten (K) through 12th grade Chinese language programs have defined proficiency goals as well. For example, the state of Ohio established three sets of Chinese-language-learning proficiency targets (Ohio Department of Education 2014): (1) K-12 immersion-program proficiency targets (for children in dual immersion, immersion, or bilingual Chinese-English programs) (2) 2nd through 8th grade targets for those who take at least three Chinese classes per week with a minimum of 90 minutes of instruction per week, and (3) middle and high-school targets that are based on the number of hours of instruction the learners have received in school. Ohio defined the targets on the ACTFL (2012) scale and broke proficiency down by ACTFL’s divisions of mode (listening, reading, writing, and speaking) and subskills (i.e. interpersonal speaking versus presentational speaking). In sum, Ohio expects elementary-school-aged children learning Chinese three times a week (with classes being approximately 30 minutes long or longer each time) to be Novice high at the end of their 8th year in such a program. Immersion children, however, should be Intermediate low or mid by the end of 6th or 8th grade, and should read at the Intermediate high-level by the end of 9th to 12th

grade. Children who start learning Chinese in middle or high school are expected to be Novice high or mid after 405 to 450 hours of instruction (after approximately three years of instruction) and soundly reaching Intermediate mid after approximately six years (or 825 to 900 hours) in a Chinese language program. The Ohio Department of Education created the targets to provide its K–12 language programs with guidance on setting their own goals. The Department noted that individual language programs should take the targets as examples and use them (or adaptations of them) to self-review and monitor their own language programs in terms of expected proficiency development and outcomes.

A third example of a Chinese program that has articulated its proficiency goals is the Chinese program at the Chinese American International School in San Francisco, California, USA. This program has proficiency as a stated goal, but program-wide targets are not presented publicly. On the school's website it is noted that the school's 'emphasis on language proficiency enables our students to engage in increasingly sophisticated content learning in Chinese'. The school outlines three immersion goals for its students, which are proficiency in spoken and written Chinese, achievement of core academic competencies, and Chinese cultural competence. The Chinese American International School recognizes that each individual child will come to the school with an individual level of proficiency, and then will progress through the program at a personalized rate, with the growth rate dependent on the child's initial proficiency level and his or her unique background characteristics. The school's assumptions based on proficiency is that all children will *grow* in proficiency, and that the growth will be at a high rate, but each child's proficiency end goal will depend on the child's individual factors, including his or her prior background in Chinese learning. These three examples show that programs can set proficiency benchmarks in a variety of ways, and the benchmarking itself can stem from different levels within the educational program (from top down, as with the Ohio Department of Education, or bottom up, as at the Chinese American International School). However, no matter how the benchmarks are set, the measurement principles remain the same.

Currently Available Chinese Proficiency Tests

Chinese language programs have many proficiency tests to choose from if they would like to assess their students' Chinese language proficiency. Major tests of Chinese have been reviewed before (see Liu 2017, for a list of tests available in the US). Here we list a selection of international, off-the-shelf Chinese proficiency tests (Table 25.1). These tests can be used for assessing all levels of Chinese language learners, from pre-Kindergarten, to college-level learners, to adults. The tests report the scores out on standardized proficiency scales (i.e. ACTFL, CEFR, CLPS, CLPT, or ILR).

In Table 25.1, we first list the test or test family. Second, we list the versions available or the various forms in which the test comes (or suite of the tests come). We list what skills the test or test family assesses (predominately listening, speaking, reading or writing). Next we list how long, on average, students need to take the test, and how much the test costs, if pricing is available. One thing that needs to be noted here is that sometimes there are institutional rates only, meaning that pricing is negotiated between the school or institution and the testing company and can depend on sales volume. Next listed is the year the test or the testing program was created. We also list the intended test takers (age range or proficiency range). And finally, we list the organization or institution that manages the testing program and tests.

Scores from commercial tests like those listed in Table 25.1 can indicate to the programs how well they are doing in teaching Chinese, and what levels of proficiency their students are reaching. Individual students can be tested upon entry into the Chinese program for placement

Table 25.1 Commercially available tests of Chinese language proficiency

Test(s)	Versions/Forms & Skills Assessed	Time & Cost	Year created	Intended test takers	Organization
1. ACTFL Proficiency Tests, Chinese (Mandarin; limited Cantonese)	Oral (OPI, OPIc); Listening (LPT); Reading (RPT); and Writing (WPT) Note: Cantonese speaking only assessed via the OPI, not the OPIc.	50 to 159 USD per test; organizational pricing available; test lengths vary greatly by form (30 to 125 min.)	LTI started testing in 1992	High school and adult (18+)	Language Testing International (LTI), the exclusive licensee of ACTFL tests, 800-486-8444, www.languagetesting.com LTI, as above.
2. ACTFL AAPPL Chinese Proficiency Test (Mandarin Chinese)	Listening/Speaking, Writing, Reading, and Listening	Institutional pricing; Approximately 2 hours for all four skills.	2015	Children (grades 5 to 12)	
3. American Councils ILR/ACTFL-scale Assessment Tools for Mandarin Chinese	Reading, Listening, Speaking, Writing	165 min. = Reading (60) Listening (45), Writing (30), Listening/Speaking (30); institutional pricing set directly with organization	2011	High school and adult	American Councils, exams@americancouncils.org, 202-833-7522, americancouncils.com
4. AP Chinese Language and Culture Exam (Mandarin Chinese, traditional or simplified)	Interpersonal, interpretive, and presentational communication skills in Mandarin Chinese, Chinese culture	135 min. =Listening (20), Reading (60), Writing (30), Speaking (11); cost varies; institutional pricing, otherwise, ~94-124 USD	2007	Exiting high-schoolers, college-bound (for college-credit)	College Board, K-12 Educators: 877-274-6474; Higher education: 855-475-3636, apcentral.collegeboard.org
5. Business Chinese Test (BCT) (Mandarin)	Listening, reading, & writing tests (which include vocabulary and character writing assessments) = 2 levels (A & B); Oral computer-adaptive test	70 and 145 min. for the Listening, reading, & writing tests (respectively); 25 min. for the Oral test; 35 to 45 USD	2006	Adult learners (18+)	The Confucius Institute Headquarters (Hanban), Ministry of Education, PR China, www.chinesetest.cn

(Continued)

Table 25.1 (Continued)

<i>Test(s)</i>	<i>Versions/Forms & Skills Assessed</i>	<i>Time & Cost</i>	<i>Year created</i>	<i>Intended test takers</i>	<i>Organization</i>
6. Computerized Oral Proficiency Instrument (COP), Mandarin Chinese	Presentational speaking	Initial purchase 165 USD for 25 tests. Additional licenses start at 1 USD.	2008	Upper high school & adults	Center for Applied Linguistics (CAL), 202-362-0700, www.cal.org
7. Early Language Listening and Oral Proficiency Assessment (ELLOPA), locally administered, any form of Chinese	Communicative, interactional speaking, listening	~20 min. for a child; costs vary and are based on local training and scoring	2001	Pre-K through Grade 2 children	CAL, as above.
8. Hanyu Shuiping Kaoshi (HSK/Chinese Proficiency Test) (Mandarin)	Written = 6 levels (levels 1-2 = listening & reading, Pinyin & Chinese; levels 3-6 = listening, reading & writing in Chinese); Speaking test = 3 levels (beginner, intermediate, advanced; first 2 in Chinese & Pinyin).	40 to 140 min. for the Written test, 17 to 24 min. for the Speaking test; 20 to 70 USD	1984; became standardized for college entrance in 1992	Adult learners (18+); college-bound to Chinese universities	Hanban, as above.
9. Oral Proficiency Exam (COPE) (locally administered, any form of Chinese)	Communicative, interactional speaking	15-20 min. for a pair of students; costs vary and are based on local training and scoring	1988	Children (grades 5-9; ~10 to 14-year-olds) to adults	CAL, as above.
10. Avant STAMP (STANDARDS-based Measurement of Proficiency), Cantonese or Mandarin (simplified or traditional)	3 different tests of reading, listening, speaking, writing; (1) 4Se proficiency test in Cantonese or Mandarin; (2) 4S proficiency test in Mandarin; (3) PLACE (placement test) in Mandarin	4Se and 4S are not timed, PLACE = 40 min.; pricing approximately 12 to 25 USD, set based on volume with Avant	2008	Children grades 2-6 (4Se); children & adults grade 7 (~12-year-olds) and above (4S); grades 6-16 (PLACE)	The Center for Applied Second Language Studies (CASLS); Avant Assessment, sales@avantassessment.com, 888-713-7887

11. Student Oral Proficiency Assessment (SOPA) (locally administered, any form of Chinese)	Communicative, interactional speaking	15–20 min. for a pair of students; costs vary and are based on local training and scoring	1992	Children grades 2–8 (~7 to 13-year-olds)	CAL, as above.
12. Youth Chinese Test (YCT) (Mandarin)	Listening & reading tests = 4 levels; Speaking test = 2 levels (beginner & intermediate).	35 to 85 min. for the Listening & reading test; 17 and 19 min. for the Speaking tests, respectively; 10 to 25 USD	2004; created for overseas use	Children (Primary & middle schoolers)	Hanban, as above.

information and/or for baseline information on the individual's proficiency start (where they were in terms of proficiency when they entered the program). Measuring a student's proficiency a second time (at the end of learning) can indicate the student's overall *gain* in proficiency (technically, *gain scores* are always linear, as they are a measurement between two points). Additional intermittent measurements of proficiency (when there are three or more measurements in total) by the same student can be used to measure that individual student's developmental pattern of *growth* in proficiency (which can be non-linear, see Burkhauser et al. 2016). Repeated (longitudinal) scores from several students at the same points in time can be averaged to get a picture of learners' growth patterns as they progress through the program in the school. Such information is important for programs so that they can see and understand how proficiency develops in the program. Students can use the scores or score certificates in their student portfolios (or note their scores on their resumes if they are older learners) to profile and document their learning of Chinese. Doing so helps them communicate to outsiders how 'good' their Chinese is, and helps others know what they can do in academic contexts, outside of school in their daily lives, and (for older learners) in work settings.

Empirical Uses of Standardized Chinese Proficiency Tests

The standardized proficiency tests outlined in Table 25.1 have been used in empirical research studies by researchers who have asked a variety of Chinese-proficiency-measurement-related questions. For example, Surface and Dierdorff (2003) looked at the ACTFL OPI test scores of 241 Mandarin Chinese test takers as part of a larger study in which they looked at inter-rater consistency and agreement across 19 ACTFL language OPIs. Each test taker had his or her test rated by two or three official ACTFL OPI raters. Surface and Dierdorff calculated the inter-rater reliability of all rater pairs who rated the 241 Chinese OPI test takers' audio samples. They found that the inter-rater reliability agreement level was extremely high, from .883 (using Cohen's weighted kappa) to .989 (using Pearson or Spearman correlation). This means that the Chinese-language raters were consistently and reliably assigning the same scores to the individual Chinese-test-takers' OPI speech on that occasion.

Gatti and O'Neill (2017) also looked at an ACTFL test of Chinese, but they looked at the writing (WPT) exam. They specifically investigated (within a larger study on heritage learners' writing performance across multiple languages) how heritage Chinese students performed on the writing test, and whether their performance was related to their backgrounds and learning experiences. They also wanted to see how reliable the Chinese heritage learners were in self-rating their ability to write in Chinese. They had 61 Chinese heritage language learners in the study who ranged from high school to college-level learners. The heritage Chinese learners were not very able to self-rate their Chinese writing skills: Their writing-test scores only correlated (Pearson's r) with their self-assessments of writing at .304. Another finding was that the heritage speakers who were born outside the United States performed better on the WPT than did their US-born peers. Of those not born in the US, age of arrival also appeared to affect scores: Later arrival corresponded with higher WPT scores. The results gave validity to the Chinese WPT, as those with more or stronger (or longer lasting) ties to the home-Chinese country and community (and hence should have had greater and more in-depth Chinese use) had higher WPT scores, as expected.

Chinese proficiency tests developed by the Center for Applied Linguistics, specifically, the COPI and the SOPI, have been compared. Malabonga, Kenyon and Carpenter (2005) related COPI, SOPI, and professors' ratings of 55 Arabic, Chinese, and Spanish-language learners, 16 of whom were Chinese language learners, and they also checked whether students' self-assessment

of their speaking ability worked well as a self-placer for the starting level of the computer-adaptive COPI assessment. The authors did not report any results for the Chinese students separately from the Arabic and Spanish learners, but they found that the COPI and the SOPI were both reliable and valid measures of proficiency, although with the COPI, some students were over-estimating their ability to speak, and so they misplaced themselves on the COPI-self-placer portion at the start of the COPI test. Such problems resulted in students getting test levels that were too difficult for them, and such problems in self-placer-starts on computer-adaptive tests of speaking ability seem to persist today. For example, for the ACTFL OPIC for Chinese, a similar self-assessment is used to launch the starting level of the exam (see Tigchelaar, Bowles, Winke and Gass 2017).

Meanwhile, Advant STAMP assessments for Chinese have seen more research, as these assessments are used more often to measure the proficiency of students in immersion and high school world language programs (as described by Xu, Padilla and Silva 2015), in dual-language immersion programs (as outlined in Burkhauser et al. 2016), and in intensive summer high school Mandarin language and culture programs (see Xu et al. 2012). At the high-school level, the STAMP 4S appeared to have measured gains in proficiency just as well as the SOPI did (Xu et al. 2012). And in a robust, longitudinal study of Chinese proficiency development, Burkhauser et al. (2016) had 237 children in a one-way Chinese immersion program take STAMP tests repeatedly over time, when they were in 3rd, 4th, 5th, 7th, and 8th grade. They used the STAMP 4Se for the children when they were in grades 3 to 5, and the STAMP 4S when they were in grades 7 and 8 to measure proficiency growth. The data showed that the children obtained consistently higher listening proficiency-test scores (over reading, speaking, and writing) in the early years (grades 3 to 5), but when the test changed from the 4Se to 4S, the results flipped, with the 4S demonstrating that the children's scores in speaking were the highest. The report seemed to show to us that the 4Se and the 4S may be measuring slightly different things, and they may be disjointed in their ability to consistently measure proficiency and its subskills across the age divide of elementary to middle-school years (the two tests, which are for elementary and middle-school students, respectively, may not be as well-aligned or as well vertically scaled as expected). However, the authors suggested that the overall end results of the proficiency testing by the students at 8th grade was positive, demonstrating that Chinese immersion students on average achieved Novice high to Intermediate mid on the four subskills of Chinese proficiency.

The Chinese AP exam, which began in 2007, has had tremendous growth, and this growth is plotted and analyzed in a report by Brown and Thompson (2016). Meanwhile, the HSK test, which was first developed in 1984 and has seen several revisions and expansions (Teng 2017), has been researched more. Researchers such as Li (2014) have used HSK test results in investigations on how proficiency affects cognitive processing in language learning classrooms. The author indicated that certain types of grammatical feedback work better with students with higher levels of proficiency, as measured by the HSK, and less well with those in the class who are at lower levels of proficiency. Lu (2017) investigated the criterion-validity of the HSK levels 3 and 4 and found that the scores from those level tests are aligned with the ACTFL or CEFR scales, but the alignment should be considered cautiously. This is perhaps because, as Lu and Song (2017) cautioned, the CEFR scale and other national scales may be inadequate for describing Chinese language learners' levels of Chinese, especially when it comes to Chinese writing proficiency. This is because the CEFR and other language-agnostic scales did not and cannot take into consideration, from the point of construction, the particular cultural, historical, and linguistic nuances of the Chinese language. Application of the scales to Chinese was conducted after the scales themselves were operational for other languages. Preference is given by the HSK and Hanban to report HSK results out on the CLPS scale, although the HSK has

been officially aligned with the CEFR scale as well (see Teng 2017 p. 13, http://english.hanban.org/node_8002.htm). More research along these lines is certainly needed, especially when proficiency is separated out across the various Chinese language skill sets, such as Chinese speaking as separated from Chinese writing performance.

At Michigan State University, we gave Chinese language learners the ACTFL Proficiency tests of speaking (the OPIc), reading (the RPT), and listening (LPT) to Chinese language learners in the 1st, 2nd, 3rd, and 4th years of the Chinese language program to understand where students in the program are at the end of each year. We were investigating this issue in the context of the Chinese language program specifically to see whether Chinese students were, in general, reaching the program goal of Intermediate high in proficiency (on the ACTFL 2012 scale) by the end of the 4th year in the program, and Novice high to Intermediate low by the end of the 2nd year. This project was part of the Language Proficiency Flagship Initiative, a four-year grant-program at Michigan State University to assess the proficiency of language learners across the programs of Chinese, French, Spanish, and Russian. As part of this larger project, we had enough funding to provide ACTFL proficiency tests to approximately 600 Chinese language learners. That was not enough funding to test all students, so we selected particular Chinese classes to take the tests. The teachers had to be agreeable to the testing, the classes had to be taught entirely in Chinese, and the classes could not be offered at the same time, as we could only accommodate on class at a time in our computer lab. In the end, we administered the tests to 576 Chinese language learners in the 1st, 2nd, 3rd, and 4th years of the program. Each student was offered three tests (speaking, reading, and listening), but not all students took all three tests. Most students took the speaking test, as those tests were taken during class time in the computer lab with their teacher in attendance; however, some were absent on the day of their class's OPIc testing. In total, we administered 518 OPIcs to the 576 students who were scheduled to take them. Of the 518 who took the OPIc test, 105 were in the 1st year of the Chinese language program, 173 in the 2nd, 142 in the 3rd, and 98 in the 4th. The 576 Chinese language learners were also asked to stop in the language lab on their own time to take the RPT and LPT back-to-back (students were given extra points in their Chinese class if they did this), and about half of them did. When they came into the lab, they first took the RPT (48 1st years took the RTP, 95 2nd years, 73 3rd years, and 48 4th years). Out of the 264 who took the RPT, 257 remained in the lab to also take the LPT (46 1st years, 89 2nd, 70 3rd, and 52 4th).

We found that many of the students were making the program's goals of Intermediate high or higher by the end of the 4th year. They were scoring at Novice high to Intermediate low or higher by the end of the 2nd year, although not all were. The goals were mostly being met in terms of speaking (28 out of 98 were at or above Intermediate high in speaking near the end of the 4th year), but not in terms of reading (6 out of 48 were) or listening (5 out of 52 were). Although the results seem disappointing, there is a positive aspect. The good news was that the program appeared to be able to do as expected: There was evidence in the cross-sectional data that learners in the higher-level courses obtained higher levels of language proficiency, although we do not know how much of the achievement may be based on high school or other prior learning not accounted for in this specific investigation. But, a takeaway we gleaned from program-level proficiency testing was that the program as a whole needed to focus more on reading and listening skills. We also determined that we needed to implement a measure of writing ability to fully understand our students' proficiency in Chinese. We gave the ACTFL suite of three tests (speaking, reading, and listening) because we had a grant to do so, but in the future, we would like to continue to assess speaking, reading, and writing, as those three proficiency skills overlap most closely with the curricular-content-area goals in the program. The scores in Figure 25.2 only represent the underlying proficiency goal, and thus, the Chinese program needs to

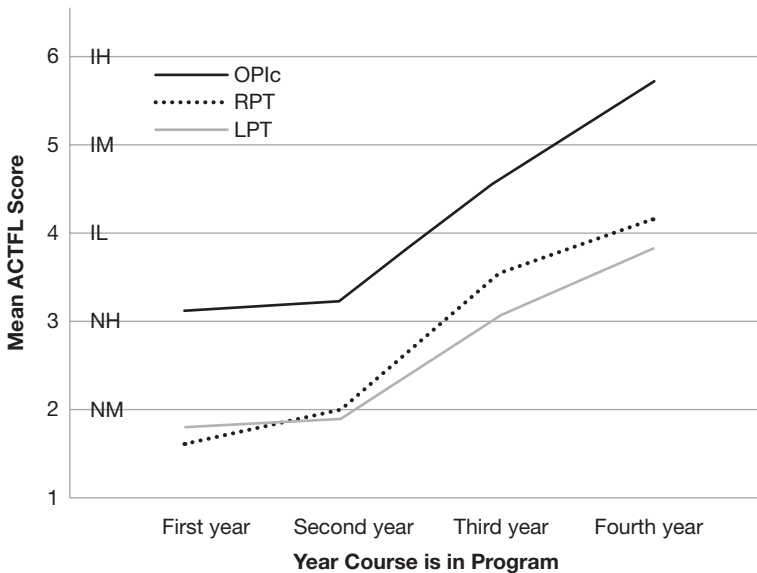


Figure 25.2 The figure shows the proficiency outcomes of Chinese language learners at Michigan State University during each of the four years of the undergraduate Chinese language program. In the second semester of each year, students were tested on speaking (OPIc), reading (RPT), and listening (LPT), with the test scores reported on the ACTFL (2012) proficiency scale.

continue measuring learning in other ways to fully understand the entire picture of education in the Chinese program at the university.

Fostering Proficiency Growth Through Proficiency Testing

At Michigan State University, looking at the Chinese language program's proficiency-test results was like having the Chinese program look at itself in the mirror. The faculty discussed the proficiency tests' results in faculty meetings and in small group settings. The faculty were able to see if the program's stated proficiency goals were being obtained by the students at the various levels within the program. The test-score observations were held up against the goals, which showed the program's strengths and weaknesses in terms of proficiency teaching and learning. Alignments and misalignments were inspected and discussed. When results seemed surprising, individual faculty members took the proficiency tests alongside their students so they could better interpret the score outcomes. For example, the students were not doing as well as expected on the ACTFL listening test. After taking the listening tests themselves, the faculty speculated whether the ACTFL listening test were especially difficult for Michigan State students because the ACTFL tests assess audio-only listening. In class, the teachers tended to focus more on listening to video and Chinese news clips that contain visuals that aid comprehension. Perhaps the type of listening assessed by the ACTFL LPT is actually the *hardest* type of listening (listening with no visual support) that there is, they surmised. So perhaps students *are* doing well overall in listening. Or, could the Chinese textbook used at Michigan State be misaligned with the vocabulary and content that tends to be represented on the proficiency tests themselves? Should Michigan State change textbooks? The faculty discussed these issues and ways to supplement the textbook with more current and authentic listening, reading, and speaking materials that would

drive stronger proficiency development. They discussed how they could use both the textbook and new supplemental materials to create additional task-based work that could help broaden the students' Chinese language repertoire beyond the current textbook content. They discussed whether students should do more self-assessments so they could learn to better judge their own proficiency trajectories and develop more agency in their proficiency development (Little and Erickson 2015; Gholami 2016, Wang 2017).

The healthy politicking that occurred lead to innovation (ideas for more open, out-of-class practice opportunities for the students). The supportive faculty members used the proficiency test outcomes to evaluate, question, and theorize about the language-proficiency-development aspects of the four-year program. The faculty inquired about adding tests of writing to obtain a fuller picture of proficiency development, or continuing testing in the future with just *integrated* performance tests of speaking and writing (test that would have students, for example, read first then write about what they read, or tests that would have students listen first, then speak about what they heard). The Chinese language program assessed proficiency to make proficiency a serious goal, a strategy for learning that is, in fact, promoted by the World Bank (2018). The information from the proficiency testing provided the right evidence for the program to discuss and act on any educational reform that they thought would further support proficiency development in the program. The faculty wants the entire program to work for learning, and proficiency development is certainly part of that learning at every stage in the program. Proficiency testing mobilizes educators and students to promote proficiency. When programs have proficiency as a goal, the programs can use proficiency tests to scrutinize, monitor, and shape the curriculum so that the goals are evidence-based and obtainable.

Conclusion

Proficiency is complex and difficult to segment and measure. Thus, most measurement specialists use rather vague terms to describe levels of proficiency. And this is because, as described by Purpura (2016), language proficiency can be defined in many different ways and approached from many different angles. Proficiency can be described as trait-based (learners can do things such as persuade, narrate, debate, and state opinions, as described by ACTFL 2012), task-centred (learners can purchase tickets at a movie theater, navigate the subway system, grocery shop, and/or meet new people; see Bao and Du 2015), interactional (with whom and in what contexts learners are able to communicate; see Gass 2010), or culturally construed (learners can identify cultural differences, navigate cultural stereotypes, or understand on a deeper level the cultures of the Chinese-speaking world; see Kramsch 1993). All of those ways of defining proficiency are accurate: One could measure it in *all* of those ways. An additional challenge in defining proficiency is deciding how to operationalize proficiency for specific measurement purposes, that is, how to measure proficiency in meaningful ways for score reporting and score-interpretation. Because of the difficulties in measuring proficiency, most people use standardized assessments (for example, those listed in Table 25.1) and standardized scales to measure and talk about proficiency. The common proficiency terminology and concepts and theories on how it grows (as envisioned by ACTFL 2012 in Figure 25.1) are extremely helpful, and Chinese scholars should and do use them. With a set of shared terminology and conceptualizations of proficiency, educators, program administrators, and researchers can talk about proficiency more concretely. Everyone can measure it. Everyone can discuss what proficiency growth is, what Chinese programs' goals are, and how Chinese language pedagogues envision growth. Importantly, Chinese pedagogues can discuss whether their proficiency-growth vision is realistic, healthy, and positively ambitious, as it should be.

Implications and Suggestions for Measuring Chinese Language Proficiency

In this chapter, we provided examples of how proficiency is described, tested, and how proficiency is fostered. We showcased how different programs define or can define proficiency. We listed commercial tests that are commonly used to measure proficiency, but also noted that programs should use other methods (self-assessment, portfolios) to triangulate standardized proficiency-test data. To robustly measure Chinese language proficiency, we recommend that language programs follow the simple steps below.

1. Define the Chinese language program's goals in terms of proficiency and other skills (content areas that are taught). When defining and describing proficiency, use common terminology and national or international proficiency-scale language (CLPS, CEFR, or ACTFL scale language) that others can understand and so that within and cross-program comparisons (for accountability purposes) can be made.
2. Describe the program's overall proficiency-growth goals in terms of the individual students and/or in terms programmatic goals that are to be met by students within a certain time frame (or by when they finish a certain level of class), or both.
3. Decide on a plan to measure students' proficiency at key points in the academic program. We suggest minimally that proficiency should be measured first at the individual's start in the program (this would be his or her baseline of learning, or intercept, in mathematic terms, and this score could be used to help with placement-decision making and/or as a basis of diagnostic information), and second, when the individual is leaving or exiting the program. With those two measurements of proficiency, individuals' change in proficiency can be calculated (change between the linear points of A and B), and this is the person's measurement of overall proficiency gain. If resources and time allow, growth (and patterns of that proficiency growth) can be measured by adding in intermittent testing between the initial and end-point testing, as Burkhauser et al. (2016) did. But this hopefully should be done with the students all taking the same form of the test, equivalent forms, or with (vertically) aligned versions. Large elbows in the data when students change test forms, as seen in Burkhauser et al. (when the children switched from the STAMP 4Se at the end of 5th grade to the 4S in 7th grade), are causes for concern, indicating that the longitudinal measurement is not consistent across test forms. When three (or more) points are provided, the proficiency pattern can curve (as it does for the Chinese language learners measured in 3rd, 4th, and 5th grade on the STAMP 4Se in Burkhauser et al.'s research), which provides an additional dimension to the proficiency information: One can see not just that proficiency changes (which is the information someone gets from two measurement points), but also *how* it grows (and hypothetically it should be fast initially, and slower later, which is what the 3rd, 4th, and 5th grade proficiency data in Burkhauser et al. showed). Not all students would need to be tested (a representative sample would be fine), and testing would not need to occur for everyone every year.
4. Meanwhile, all students can be assessed in house with classroom-based, self, and peer assessments of proficiency (see ACTFL 2017; ALTE 2002; Moeller, Theiler and Wu 2012; Tigchelaar et al. 2017; Wang 2017). Such assessments are free or of little cost to programs, but are rich in information. In designing or using such formative proficiency tests, programs, and instructors can still use the national and international proficiency terminology. Teaching teachers and students to understand models of proficiency and to use the standardized terms, and to discuss proficiency in terms of can-do statements, can help programs foster and develop proficiency, and set expectations that are realistic, achievable, and aspiring.

Acknowledgments

The authors would like to thank Susan Gass, Emily Heidrich, and the Chinese Program faculty at Michigan State University for their assistance with this chapter. Funding for the Chinese language program proficiency testing at Michigan State University described in this chapter came from the National Security Education Program's Language Flagship Proficiency Initiative, Award Number 0054-MSU-22-PI-280-PO2, granted to Paula Winke and Susan Gass at Michigan State University. The chapter authors alone are responsible for the content of this chapter and the conclusions drawn.

References

English References

- ALTE. (2002) *The ALTE Can-do Project: English Version. Association of Language Testers in Europe (ALTE)*. Retrieved from www.cambridgeenglish.org/images/28906-alte-can-do-document.pdf.
- ACTFL. (2012) *ACTFL Proficiency Guidelines 2012*. Alexandria, VA: Author. Retrieved on January 23, 2018, from www.actfl.org/sites/default/files/pdfs/public/ACTFLProficiencyGuidelines2012_FINAL.pdf.
- ACTFL. (2017) *NCSSFL-ACTFL Can-Do Statements*. Retrieved from www.actfl.org/publications/guidelines-and-manuals/ncssfl-actfl-can-do-statements.
- Bachman, L. F. (1990) *Fundamental Considerations in Language Testing*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Bao, R. and Du, X. (2015) 'Implementation of task-based language teaching in Chinese as a foreign language: Benefits and challenges'. *Language, Culture and Curriculum* 28(3): 291–310. doi:10.1080/07908318.2015.1058392.
- Bernhardt, E. B., Valdes, G. and Miano, A. (2009) 'A chronicle of standards-based curricular reform in a research university'. In V. Scott (ed.), *Principles and Practices of the Standards in College Foreign Language Education*, 54–85. Boston: Heinle & Heinle.
- Bialystok, E. (1981) 'The role of conscious strategies in second language proficiency'. *The Modern Language Journal* 65(1): 24–35. doi:10.1111/j.1540-4781.1981.tb00949.x
- Brown, A. V. and Thompson, G. L. (2016) 'The evolution of foreign language AP exam candidates: A 36-year descriptive study'. *Foreign Language Annals* 49(2): 235–251. doi:10.1111/flan.12197.
- Brown, T. and Brown, J. (eds.). (2015) *To Advanced Proficiency and Beyond: Theory and Methods for Developing Superior Second Language Ability*. Washington, DC: Georgetown University Press.
- Burkhauser, S., Steele, J. L., Li, J., Slater, R. O., Bacon, M. and Miller, T. (2016) 'Partner-language learning trajectories in dual language immersion: Evidence from an urban district'. *Foreign Language Annals* 49(3): 415–433. doi:10.1111/flan.12218.
- Canale, M. and Swain, M. (1980) 'Theoretical bases of communicative approaches to language learning and testing'. *Applied Linguistics* 1(1): 1–47. doi: 10.1093/applin/I.1.1
- Cox, T., Malone, M. and Winke, P. (2018) 'Future directions in assessment: Influences of standards and implications for language learning'. *Foreign Language Annals* 51(1): 104–115. doi:10.1111/flan.12326.
- Gass, S. (2010) 'Interactionist perspectives on second language acquisition'. In R. B. Kaplan (ed.), *The Oxford Handbook of Applied Linguistics*, 2nd edn., 217–231. Oxford: Oxford University Press. doi:10.1093/oxfordhb/9780195384253.013.0015.
- Gatti, A. and O'Neill, T. (2017) 'Who are heritage writers? Language experiences and writing proficiency'. *Foreign Language Annals* 50(4): 734–753. doi:10.1111/flan.12291.
- Gholami, H. (2016) 'Self-assessment and learner autonomy'. *Theory and Practice in Language Studies* 6(1): 46–51. doi:10.17507/tpls.0601.06.
- Glisan, E. W., Swender, E. and Surface, E. A. (2013) 'Oral proficiency standards and foreign language teacher candidates: Current findings and future research directions'. *Foreign Language Annals* 46(2): 264–289. doi:10.1111/flan.12030

- Hymes, D. (1985) 'Toward linguistic competence'. *AILA Review/Revue de l'AILA (Association Internationale de Linguistique Appliquée)* 2(1): 9–23.
- Isbell, D., Winke, P. and Gass, S. (2018) 'Using the ACTFL OPIc to assess proficiency and monitor progress in a tertiary foreign languages program'. *Language Testing*. Online first. doi:10.1177/0265532218798139.
- Kramsch, C. (1993) *Context and Culture in Language Teaching*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Li, S. (2014) 'The interface between feedback type, L2 proficiency, and the nature of the linguistic target'. *Language Teaching Research* 18(3): 373–396. doi: 10.1177/1362168813510384.
- Little, D. and Erickson, G. (2015) 'Learner identity, learner agency, and the assessment of language proficiency: Some reflections prompted by the common European framework of reference for languages'. *Annual Review of Applied Linguistics* 35(2015): 120–139. doi: 10.1017/S0267190514000300.
- Little, D. and Perclová, R. (2001) *European Language Portfolio: A Guide for Teachers and Teacher Trainers*. Retrieved from <https://rm.coe.int/1680459fa6>.
- Liu, Y. (2017) 'Assessing Chinese in the USA: An overview of major tests'. In D. Zhang and C.-H. Lin (eds.), *Chinese as a Second Language Assessment*, 43–65. Singapore: Springer. doi: 10.1007/978-981-10-4089-4_3.
- Lu, Y. (2017) 'Exploring the criterion-validity of HSK levels 3 and 4: Are assessments and CEFR standards related?'. In Y. Lu (ed.), *Teaching and Learning Chinese in Higher Education*, 35–55. New York: Taylor & Francis; Routledge.
- Lu, Y. and Song, Y. (2017) 'European benchmarking Chinese language: Defining the competencies in the written language'. In Y. Lu (ed.), *Teaching and Learning Chinese in Higher Education*, 13–34. New York: Taylor & Francis; Routledge.
- Malabonga, V., Kenyon, D. M. and Carpenter, H. (2005) 'Self-assessment, preparation and response time on a computerized oral proficiency test'. *Language Testing* 22(1): 59–92. doi: 10.1191/0265532205lt297oa.
- Moeller, A. J., Theiler, J. M. and Wu, C. (2012) 'Goal setting and student achievement: A longitudinal study'. *The Modern Language Journal* 96(2): 153–169. doi 10.1111/j.1540-4781.2011.01231.x.
- NSFLEP. (2015) *World-Readiness Standards for Learning Languages*, 4th edn. Alexandria, VA: The American Council on the Teaching of Foreign Languages (ACTFL).
- Ohio Department of Education. (2014) *Proficiency Targets*. Retrieved from https://education.ohio.gov/getattachment/Topics/Ohio-s-New-Learning-Standards/Foreign-Language/World-Languages-Model-Curriculum/World-Languages-Model-Curriculum-Framework/Introduction-to-Learning-Standards/Proficiency-and-Research-Based-Proficiency-Targets/Proficiency_target_charts_MCwebsite.pdf.aspx.
- Purpura, J. E. (2016) 'Second and foreign language assessment'. *The Modern Language Journal* 100(S1): 190–208. doi 10.1111/modl.12308.
- Savignon, S. (1983) *Communicative Competence: Theory and Classroom Practice*. Reading, MA: Addison-Wesley.
- Shang, G. and Zhao, S. (2017) 'What standard and whose standard: Issues in the development of Chinese proficiency descriptors in Singapore'. In D. Zhang and C.-H. Lin (eds.), *Chinese as a Second Language Assessment*, 159–181. Singapore: Springer. doi: 10.1007/978-981-10-4089-4_8.
- Surface, E. and Dierdorff, E. C. (2003) 'Reliability and the ACTFL Oral Proficiency Interview: Reporting indices of interrater consistency and agreement for 19 languages'. *Foreign Language Annals* 36(4): 507–519. doi: 10.1111/j.1944-9720.2003.tb02140.x.
- Teng, Y. (2017) 'Hanyu Shuiping Kaoshi (HSK): Past, present, and future'. In D. Zhang and C.-H. Lin (eds.), *Chinese as a Second Language Assessment*, 3–19. Singapore: Springer. doi: 10.1007/978-981-10-4089-4_1.
- Tigheelaar, M., Bowles, R. P., Winke, P. and Gass, S. (2017) 'Assessing the validity of ACTFL Can-Do Statements for spoken proficiency: A Rasch analysis'. *Foreign Language Annals* 50(3): 584–600. doi:10.1111/flan.12286.
- Tschirner, E. (ed.) (2012) *Aligning Frameworks of Reference in Language Testing: The ACTFL Proficiency Guidelines and the Common European Framework of Reference*. Tübingen, Germany: Stauffenburg-Verlag.
- Wang, D. (2017) 'Self- and peer assessment of oral presentation in advanced Chinese classrooms: An exploratory study'. In D. Zhang and C.-H. Lin (eds.), *Chinese as a Second Language Assessment*, 271–286. Singapore: Springer. doi: 10.1007/978-981-10-4089-4_13.
- World Bank. (2018) 'Learning to realize education's promise'. *World Development Report*. Washington, DC. Retrieved from [https://doi.org/10.1016/S0305-750X\(98\)90001-8](https://doi.org/10.1016/S0305-750X(98)90001-8).

- Xu, X., Padilla, A. M. and Silva, D. M. (2015) 'Learner performance in Mandarin immersion and high school world language programs: A comparison'. *Foreign Language Annals* 48(1): 26–38. doi: 10.1111/flan.12123.
- Xu, X., Padilla, A. M., Silva, D. and Masuda, N. (2012) 'A high school intensive summer mandarin course: Program model and learner outcomes'. *Foreign Language Annals* 45(4): 622–638. doi: 10.1111/flan.12005.
- Zhang, D. (2017) 'Developments in research on testing Chinese as a second language'. In D. Zhang and C.-H. Lin (eds.), *Chinese as a Second Language Assessment*, 67–87. Singapore: Springer. doi: 10.1007/978-981-10-4089-4_4.

Chinese Reference

- Hanban. (2008) *Chinese Language Proficiency Scales for Speakers of Other Languages/国际汉语能力标准*. Beijing: Foreign Languages Teaching and Research Press.

Part VI

Instructional Media and Resources



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Using Social Media to Teach Chinese More Effectively

Ke Peng

Introduction

With the pervasive adoption and increasing influence of social media and mobile devices on modern lives, more and more educators are identifying new ways to incorporate interactive social media channels or social networking sites to language learning and hence the rise of Social Media Language Learning (SMLL). The educators in the field of teaching Chinese a foreign language (CFL) are no exception. Facebook is still the world's most popular social network with around two billion users worldwide by the end of 2017, but the most frequently used social network app WeChat (weixin) has surpassed Facebook in stock market value with one billion users mostly in China. According to *China Daily News* (2017), an average of 38 billion text messages and 6.1 billion voice messages are sent on WeChat each day. I have selected WeChat as the social media tool for this study to explore how it can be utilized to facilitate CFL teaching. This chapter is organized in the following structure: first, I will give a general introduction of theories and frameworks of Computer-assisted Language Learning (CALL); then I will zoom in and review the latest SMLL research in the field of CFL; after that, I will present empirical research on utilizing WeChat to conduct an inter-institutional group discussion at the intermediate level; lastly, this chapter ends with a discussion of the future of SMLL in CFL settings.

SMLL: Theories and Frameworks

Recently, the rise of new technologies such as social media networking sites and Web 2.0 tools in combination with the growing complexity and fast evolution of knowledge made it a pivotal learning skill to synthesize and recognize connections and patterns. The Social Media Language Learning (SMLL) becomes a popular trend in the field of CALL. SMLL connects interactive social media networking sites or social media apps to language learning. Social media networking sites or apps provide students with access to L2 information or content they are interested in, and enable them to participate in actual, real-time, meaningful conversations in the target language with the help of a teacher or a native speaker.

One of the legitimate ways to examine previous research and practices of employing SMLL is through the lens of the grounding theories and frameworks behind such studies. Reviewing

such theories and frameworks helps us develop an in-depth understanding of research designs and teaching practices, as well as help us expand existing knowledge in the field (Hubbard 2008; Levy and Stockwell 2006). Since SMLL is a relatively new area and constitutes an organic part of a more established field of Computer-assisted Language Learning (CALL), the theories and frameworks in the field of CALL may also apply to SMLL. We will start with the broad review of theories and frameworks in CALL and relate them to the SMLL area.

To identify the dominant theoretical frameworks and trends behind the research with the interplay of Second Language Acquisition (SLA) and CALL, Hubbard (2008) reviewed instances of *theory* in a total of 244 articles published from June 1983 to September 2007 in the *CALICO Journal*, a major journal devoted exclusively to CALL or technology-mediated language use and learning. The data reflected that there was no native theory to CALL, that is, 'a theory which has technology in language learning at its foundation and that then may draw on one or more theories from more established domains for support' (Hubbard, p. 393). The numerically dominant or salient theories include *linguistic theory* (seven articles), *learning theory* (20 articles), and *second language learning or SLA theory* (25 articles). Only three specific theories appeared in more than three articles: *generative theory of multimedia* (four articles), *schema theory* (six articles) and *item response theory* (six articles). The irony is that the item response theory is actually related to general assessment rather than SLA.

In a nutshell, Hubbard summarized the general theoretical grounding of CALL in essence (akin to linguistic theory or SLA theory) can be a combination of technology-centered extensions of psychology and education theories, second language acquisition, natural language processing, and language learning-centered extensions of theories of human-computer interaction or technology in education. Following the wide range of theoretical underpinnings for CALL Hubbard identified in 2008, Thorne and Smith (2011), however, focused on how SLA theories informed pedagogical practice and innovation as well as research on the effectiveness and outcomes of CALL. A special issue of the *CALICO Journal* investigated SLA and CALL from four theoretical angles: a psycholinguistic perspective, an interactionist (CMC) perspective, a sociocultural perspective, and an ecological perspective.

Levy's (2002) did a corpus analysis of 177 journal articles and book chapters to explore the discourse, products, and processes of design in CALL. He found the discourse on design and CALL functions were represented at many levels, which was constrained by the wide range of goals and orientations of CALL designers. 'Design' was used to describe 'paradigm, theory, model, methodology', or artifact (websites, learning environments, online courses, projects, state-of-the-art technologies). He found there was a strong emphasis on user-centeredness, including both learner perceptions and experiences. Levy (2002) himself approached the CALL design from three principal distinctive links between design and theory: holistic and discrete element approaches (e.g. programs focusing on pronunciation or vocabulary), tutor and tool roles for the computer, and theory-testing programs for research purposes only.

Levy's descriptive overview (2002) demonstrated that the creation of any well-constructed artifact (a website, an app, a virtual learning project, an online course) should entail a theory in design (be it *sociocultural approach*, *interactionist approach* or *psycholinguistic approach*), a composition of team (including the content expert, instructional designers, learners for extensive end-user testing to contribute at different stages of the process), and a collaborative product-development process to focus on learners' needs and task construct as a means of operationalizing the underpinning theory and translating it into practice.

Similar to Levy (2002), Hoven (1999) proposed a learner-centered CALL design model. Her model consisted of five principles incorporating sociocultural methodology, learner centeredness, allocation of control and student awareness-raising, task-based pedagogy, and models for

good practice from both mainstream SLA pedagogy and CALL. The key element of Hoven's model was 'sociocultural paradigm', which emphasized the significance of mediated learning, scaffolding and Vygotsky's Zone of Proximal Development (ZPD). She noted that sociocultural methodology was the most appropriate paradigm to use for her model as it incorporated negotiated, mediated creation of meaning among learners, between learners and teachers, and between learners and the technology. It also allowed the inclusion of learning strategies in the instructional design and anticipated implementation of the model.

Regarding theories and designs in SMLL, Chatti, Jarke and Specht (2010) proposed a Social Software Supported Learning Framework as a technology-enhanced learning initiative to cater to the new learning requirements of the digital age. They promoted life-long, informal, personalized learning within a social context. Their 3P Learning Model emphasized learning and knowledge in the twenty-first century as being 'personal, social, distributed, ubiquitous, flexible, dynamic and complex in nature'; consequently, they believe that 'learning' should be transformed and include three primary components: **P**ersonalization, **P**articipation, and **K**nowledge-Pull (3P Learning Model).

Identical to Chatti et al.'s stress on dynamic personalized learning, Blake (2013) also pinpointed that social networking sites would afford learners with more access to content knowledge, and furthermore, these social networking sites become a part of the participants' social life. Blake suggested that the crucially important factor for success in SMLL is the notion of autonomous learning. In other words, learners should take responsibility for their own learning (learner empowerment) and constantly reflect on their learning process (learner reflection) with the facilitation of teachers or other participants to identify the most felicitous course of study for their L2 development (appropriate target language use).

To summarize, even though there is no prominent CALL or SMLL theory or conceptual framework in the current literature, it is commonly recognized that a well-constructed student-centered learning experience or project with the effective use of technology should entail a theory or multiple theories in design (theoretical pluralism), be it a psycholinguistic approach, interactionist approach, sociocultural approach or ecological approach (more elaboration provided in the next section). Moreover, it should involve an instructional specialist or team, who align the content, major assessments, learning tasks with pedagogy-driven technology through a systematic process. The ultimate goal is that L2 learning can be personalized and socialized, whereby learner empowerment, learner reflection, and appropriate target language use are orchestrated to achieve autonomous learning.

Literature Review of SMLL in the Field of CFL Teaching

In light of the gradual popularity of social network sites, a great number of empirical studies examined CFL learning within several social network sites: Facebook (Wang S.G. 2013; Wang and Vasquez 2014; Wang Y.L. et al. 2013, 2015, 2017), WeChat (Li 2018; Luo and Yang 2016; Wang, Z. 2015; Xu and Peng 2017), and Weibo (Diao 2014; Tsung and Wang 2015). The SMLL research in the field covered a wide range of topics: some studies investigated the impact of SMLL on CFL learners' attitude and motivation (Cai and Zhu 2012; Xu and Peng 2017), some examined how learners' perception of chat partners' status (native speaker vs non-native speaker) influenced the affective, linguistic, and cognitive quality of the interactions (Wang Y.L. et al. 2013, 2015, 2017), while others evaluated students' performance in presentational writing (Liao 2010; Wang S.G. 2013; Wang and Vasquez 2014).

For the same social media app, researchers may probe different functionality of its use in L2 learning. For instance, Wang S.G. (2013) and Wang and Vasquez (2014) examined the effects of

weekly social communication in Chinese via Facebook on intermediate-level college students' computer-based writing performance. They used a quasi-experimental approach to compare 18 students' performances in three writing assessments conducted at the beginning, middle, and end of the semester. They found that those students in the experiment group, who wrote weekly updates and comments on a designated Facebook group page, were able to produce significantly more Chinese characters than their peers in the control group, who did not post on the Facebook page. In terms of writing quality, however, no statistical significance existed between the two groups. Despite the empirical nature of Wang and Vasquez's study, they did not actually control the confounding factors in the research. They failed to distinguish heritage learners from non-heritage learners, or learners who had just finished a study abroad summer before taking the course and those who did not. Even though participants were all taking fourth-semester Chinese course, it did not mean they demonstrated the same proficiency level at the intermediate level. Additionally, the group placement might also be biased to begin with, as the students in the experiment group volunteered to post at least two entries and make at least four comments per week on a Facebook group page whereas the students in the control group opted out of the activity.

Wang Y.L. et al. (2013, 2015, 2017) also used Facebook as the primary social media tool in their empirical studies, but instead of using the social media functions of Facebook, they only focused on its synchronous computer-mediate communication (CMC) chat function to investigate CFL students' attitudes towards native speaker (NS) versus non-native speaker (NNS) chat partners in computer-mediated communication from affective, linguistic, and cognitive factors. The researchers created a group page for all the participants on Facebook before the start of the study. All the CFL learners (N=18) were assigned to complete four synchronous chat activities in two weeks with two NS partners and two NNS partners respectively. The chat topics include hobbies, entertainment, food, and culture. After chatting twice with one type of chat partner, each CFL learner finished an online questionnaire with both Likert scale perception questions and an open-ended question. The chat transcripts were also collected and analyzed.

The results of the studies indicated that CFL learners generally did not have a preference for the kinds of chat partner (NS or NNS). However, the statistically significant results in the cognitive subscale revealed that CFL learners found it was more beneficial to chat with NS for the sake of positive language input, cultural input, and corrective feedback. There was no significant affective difference between chatting with NNS peers and NS partners, but the fact that NS partners had a much faster typing speed made them nervous. These three studies (Wang et al. 2013, 2015, 2017) were quantitative in research design, but the researchers did not provide specific examples to illustrate how meaning was negotiated in actual interaction. It was also obscure how the four chat activities were tied to other tasks or projects of the course, specifically, the relevance of these chat tasks to the learners' overall learning experience with the use of a social media app.

Also using Facebook as the social media platform, Liao (2010) compared the effect of online-chat discussion and that of face-to-face pair discussion on CFL learners' writing performance, a 350-character composition followed by the interactive discussion task. The results suggested that both measures were cognitively and socially beneficial to learners, including improving learners' writing fluency and motivation for learning Chinese writing. However, the two mediums exerted variant impact on the collaborative pattern and the transfer process. The online chat seemed to promote relatively equal collaboration, whereas the face-to-face discussion was relatively unequal in collaborative pattern. Moreover, learners demonstrated a more direct and parallel transfer in their production from online discussion to the writing composition, while the face-to-face conversation stimulated a deeper thinking process and learners used higher-level

cognitive skills in selecting what and how to transfer the discussion to their written performance. Unfortunately, Liao's analysis did not consider inherent differences brought by 'distinct communication media' (Salaberry 1999). Specifically, face-to-face communication occurred in a linear manner, learners had to memorize, process, and summarize what they had discussed in the face-to-face conversation unless they had voice or video recorded the discussion. For their counterparts in the online-chat condition, they could simply copy, paste, and integrate the exact discussion into their written output. Furthermore, people tended to demonstrate a clearer turn-taking pattern and hence more collaboration in online-chat discussion regardless of their task and language used in the discussion.

Unlike the previous studies, Li (2018) utilized WeChat as the social media channel. She adopted an ecological approach and used 'affordance' as a theoretical and analytical construct to evaluate the language development input and opportunities WeChat provided to two of her CFL learners' (one at the novice proficiency level and the other at the advanced level) during their seven-week intensive language programs in Shanghai. The ecological perspective of language input, 'affordance', refers to the learning opportunities that environment makes available for learners to engage in meaning-making activities with others on a semiotic budget (van Lier 2000, 2004). It also refers to what the learner (agent) perceives as relevant (learner perception) and actionable (learner activities). Van Lier (2004) highlighted that activity in one's environment brings forth the affordances in those environments that are relevant to the agent. Li's study (2018) also verified that L2 learning only occurs when L2 learners are ready to learn, i.e. their abilities, aptitudes, and attitudes are in resonance with the semiotic resources available in the environment.

Li (2018) found that WeChat offered a casual space with easy access for both of her students to Chinese NSs so they could engage in authentic meaning-focused communication. Not deterred by his limited Chinese skills, the novice-level CFL learner in her study immediately became an avid user of WeChat and was enthusiastic with using Chinese phrases and sentences to participate in organic and diverse conversations, while the advanced-level learner was more conscious of how she communicated via the app although she recognized and enjoyed the casual nature and convenience of WeChat communication. Furthermore, Li also found that despite the linguistic disparity, both learners benefited from valuable yet different linguistic resources via WeChat that enhanced their prolific multi-literacy skills and allowed them to create new identities. Specifically, the novice-level learner mainly benefited from the multimodal resources (video clips, memes, stickers etc.) and numerous opportunities to practice typing Chinese, to get instant help with colloquial expressions, and to forge a new identity of a fluent Chinese language user so that he could build connections and handle real-life issues with the use of WeChat. On the other hand, the advanced-level learner was already identifying herself as a competent Chinese language user and solely focused on learning Chinese urban slang which was not available in her traditional classroom setting.

In short, there have been a small number of empirical SMLL studies published in the field of teaching Chinese as a foreign language in the past decade. What lacks clarity in these studies is the researchers' selection of a theoretical framework and a clearly defined process to align the instructional design, research questions with their choice of the social media app.

Current Research

The present study takes a theory pluralism approach in design (both the instructional design and the research design) to examine the cognitive perception, the actual experience, and personal reflection of CFL learners in employing a social media tool, WeChat, in a collaborative

project. Three CFL teachers in three institutions have co-created, co-implemented, and co-evaluated the project delivered to their intermediate classes during the Fall semester of 2017. For this collaborative project, they adopt the *backward design* method and use *5E Constructivist Learning Cycle* in combination with *Theories of Second Language Acquisition* (Figure 26.1) to develop the course materials, lesson plans, learning activities, and assessment measures of four thematic units. Each thematic unit contains five stages of a sequence for teaching and learning: engage (input), explore (input-interaction), explain (interaction-intake), elaborate (intake-output), and evaluate (output-assessment). The major assessments of each unit include both a drama performance and a written test, whereas the key assignments encompass vocabulary and grammar exercises, read-aloud homework, composition, and skit writing for the drama performance.

The research design of the present study is a combination of two approaches to SLA. On one side, an *Interactionist Approach* (Gass 2010) to explore the link between interaction and learning. Specifically, we investigate the relationship between CMC, including the input, output, and intake of the inter-institutional WeChat group discussions, and instructed second language acquisition, including the task of relating and sharing the idiomatic story of hújiǎ hǔwēi ‘the Fox Assumes the Tiger’s Ferocity’ to real-life scenarios. On the other side, an *Ecological Approach* (Van Lier 2004; Li 2018) is adopted to examine the affordance-effectivity pairing of WeChat in a CFL course, specifically, how social media as an emergent resource enables language socialization of intermediate L2 learners of Chinese in particular speech communities.

As a result, this study seeks to answer three research questions:

1. What is the relationship between CFL learners’ pre-project perception and actual experience/activity in utilizing a social media app such as WeChat in their language learning?
2. What affordance can such social media as WeChat provide and how effective can CFL learners use it to finish interactive discussion tasks?
3. What challenges do CFL learners face when undertaking discussion tasks in a dynamic community setting via a social media tool such as WeChat?

For the first research question, this study examines the general perception of CFL learners towards the utilization of social media tools in language learning, and investigates the

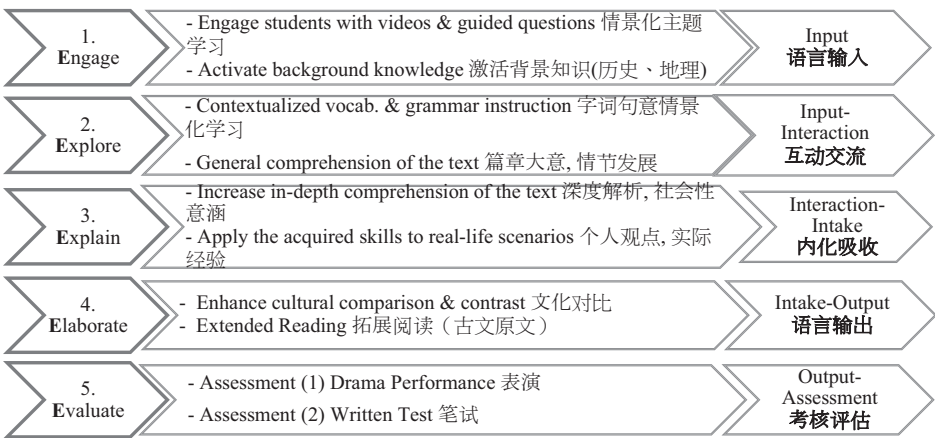


Figure 26.1 Apply the 5E constructivist learning cycle and theories of SLA to the unit design

relationship between such perception and attitude to their actual experience of using one app, WeChat in this case. For the second research question, this study only focuses on the evaluation of the communicative objectives set for the task, namely how students listen/read (input), share/present (output), and acknowledge/respond/comment (intake) in the discussion, rather than the overarching goals of the project or the course *per se*. This is because each thematic unit also constitutes of learning goals in cultures, comparisons, connections, and communities according to ACTFL standards. For the third research question, this study reports students' reflection of challenges regarding both the interaction via and the environment of WeChat discussions.

Methodology

Participants

The student participants of this study were recruited from three CFL programs at three institutions. Two institutions were public universities in the Midwest, while one institution was a liberal art college in the west coast. The 50 student participants had just completed two or three years of Chinese study and were taking an intermediate level course at the time of the study. Among them, 16 were male and 34 were female; six were heritage learners and the remainder were non-native speakers (NNS); and 24 studied abroad in China or Taiwan before the course, whereas the rest did not.

A pre-test with 24 question items selected from Level 3 to Level 5 of *Hanyu Shuiping Kaoshi* (HSK), China's only standardized test for non-native speakers, were created to assess students' initial language skills at the beginning of the semester so they can be divided into groups with peers of similar proficiency level. The differences of participants' language proficiency among the three programs varied but not statistically significant ($F(2,39) = .57, p = .57$). Moreover, program variation was not the key factor investigated in this study. The focus of this study concentrated on the perception, experience, and reflection of individual learners in a SMLL environment over a course of a semester (16 weeks). Based on their pre-test results, students were divided into groups of five with similar pre-test results.

Measures

WeChat was selected as the primary social media tool for this study. The rationale of such a decision is two-folded. First, the social media tool identified is utilized for education purposes in general and for Mandarin Chinese study in specific; therefore, it should be differentiated from other social media tools, such as Facebook, Instagram, Snapchat, and others that students have already been using for personal, entertainment or recreational purposes. Second, WeChat is of paramount significance with powerful functions in Chinese-speaking regions and has gradually become a part of Chinese cultural products and practices. Adopting WeChat as the major social media tool for Chinese study will better connect students with the target L2 culture. It will also make it easier to track students' truthful reaction regarding SMLL since students do not carry much pre-perception or stereotypes about WeChat into the project as they have demonstrated a lack of familiarity with WeChat at the initial stage of the course.

Three instruments were developed for data collection of this study: the pre-project perception survey for students, the post-project reflection survey for students, and students' posts in the inter-institutional WeChat group discussion task.

Pre-Project Perception Survey for Students

This survey was made available online and given to students at the beginning of the semester. The purpose of the survey was to document students' initial attitude and general perception of their CFL learning experience and social media use, and their prior knowledge and experience of social media. A total of 36 students from the three collaborating CFL programs completed the survey (see Appendix B).

Post-Project Reflection Survey for Students

This online survey (See Appendix C) was developed to examine students' self-appraisal of general learning experience in the course at the end of the semester and specific evaluation of the WeChat inter-institutional group discussion experience. A total of 50 student participants from the three collaborating CFL programs completed the survey, and 32 of them (Experiment Group) participated in the WeChat discussion task, while 18 of them (Control Group) only used WeChat for personal communication and they did not participate in the inter-institutional WeChat group discussion task.

Students' Posts in the Inter-Institutional WeChat Group Discussion Task

The WeChat group discussion task was designed to guide students to relate what they had learned from the unit to describe a real-life experience, and then share their story with their counterparts at another institution via the WeChat group. They were encouraged to incorporate their WeChat conversation into their unit composition. All the posts, textual, audio or pictorial, of each student were saved and transcribed.

Data Scoring and Reliability Analysis

Scoring

The data scoring of the surveys (Appendix B & C) was simple. For example, the perception and attitude were calculated on a scale of 1–5. If a participant strongly disagreed with the statement, one point was assigned; if a participant marginally (30–40%) agreed, two points was assigned; subsequently, if a participant strongly agreed, five points was assigned.

In terms of students' actual participation in the inter-institutional WeChat group discussion, instead of a detailed conversation analysis involving turn-taking, turn design, sequence organization, repair and preference structure, considering the scope of the study, I only scrutinized four types of data: (1) the total number of entries by each individual student, and whether the student demonstrated; (2) the interpretive skills, that is, they listened to or read others' posts; (3) the presentational skills, i.e. they shared their own stories/experiences in the WeChat group; and (4) the interpersonal skills, specifically, they gave immediate acknowledgment or constructive feedback to others about their posts.

Specifically, the rater went through all the posts of all eight groups and counted the total number of individual student's posts, textual length and types. Then the rater analyzed and categorized students' performance in the context of the conversation: Did the interlocutor listened to or read others' posts, was there evidence to demonstrate that the interlocutor used his/her Chinese interpretive skills? If so, one point was assigned; if not, zero point was assigned. Similar scoring was finished to record the interlocutor's use of Chinese presentational and interpersonal

skills. For the purpose of this study, only students' WeChat posts in Unit 2, a total of 159 entries, were sifted and analyzed.

Analyses and Results

Research Question 1: *What is the relationship between CFL learners' pre-project perception and actual experience/activity in utilizing a social media tool such as WeChat in their learning?*

As mentioned above, learners' perception of SMLL was captured and demonstrated by the results of the pre-project survey in this study, while learners' actual experience was demonstrated by two measures: the post-project reflection survey and students' posts in the WeChat group discussion task. In order to answer this research question, a summary and descriptive statistics of the two survey results were first analyzed and presented. Subsequently, paired-samples t-tests and correlation analyses were conducted to compare and contrast students' perception, behavior, and reflection over the course of 16 weeks.

Pre-Project Perception and Post-Project Reflection of WeChat Use

The results of the perception survey revealed that the majority of the students did not actively participate in online forums, groups, or communities prior to the study: 52.7 percent of the participants never used such tools before and 44.4 percent of them used infrequently, which left one student (2.9%) as the only active user of such technologies. Moreover, 30.5 percent of all the participants held the belief that such online forums, groups or communities were not important or relevant to their academic studies.

After using WeChat in their Chinese courses for 15 weeks, whether it was purely for optional class communication and course management purposes (18 participants) or for additional compulsory inter-institutional discussion tasks (32 participants), the majority participants demonstrated more positive attitude towards the use of WeChat: 66 percent of them reported that they actually enjoyed using the app most if not all the time, 16 percent of them sometimes enjoyed using it, the remaining 18 percent held negative view towards the use of WeChat in their Chinese class. Additionally, 78 percent agreed that WeChat helped them learn/improve/produce Chinese better. Furthermore, they became more proficient and frequent in using WeChat: 92 percent of the participants indicated that they were proficient using the app and 70 percent of them used the app outside of class.

Correlations Between Perception, Experience, and Habits

A Pearson product-moment correlation coefficient was computed to assess the relationship between participants' perception, experience, and habits in using WeChat for their CFL study.

First, we shall examine the correlations between users' cognitive perception (Factor 1 and 2 in Table 26.1) and their actual experience (Factor 3 and 4 in Table 26.1) with the application of the social media app, WeChat. There was a positive correlation between participants' perception about the course difficulty level and their user experience with the social media app, $r = .319$, $n = 50$, $p = .4$. In other words, despite the fact that some participants perceived the course as challenging for them, they still enjoyed using the app. However, there was no statistically significant correlation between users' perception about the course difficulty level and other user experience or habits. Furthermore, there was a statistically significant positive correlation between

Table 26.1 Correlations of perception, experience, and habit

Variables	1	2	3	4	5	6	M	SD
Cognitive Perception								
1. It was a difficult course for me.	–						3.02	1.24
2. WeChat group work created a supportive community.	.10	–					3.18	1.38
User Experience								
3. Enjoyed using the app.	.32*	.48**	–				3.62	1.16
4. The app helped me learn/improve /produce Chinese better.	.15	.60**	.77**	–			3.52	1.25
User Habits								
5. Used it outside of class.	.14	.52**	.56**	.59**	–		3.46	1.57
6. Used it more often than Facebook.	.19	.16	.32**	.42**	.37**	–	2.66	1.64

* $p < .05$. ** $p < .01$

participants' perception about the WeChat community and their user experience with the social media app: the more they identified with the WeChat community, the more likely they enjoyed using this social media tool, $r = .477$, $n = 50$, $p = .003$; similarly, the more they felt bonded with the WeChat community, the more likely they rated the app as helpful, $r = .595$, $n = 50$, $p < .001$.

Second, we can evaluate the correlations between users' cognitive perception (Factor 1 and 2 in Table 26.1) and their app using habits (Factor 5 and 6 in Table 26.1). The only statistically significant relationship was the positive correlation between participants' perception about the WeChat community and their app using experience outside of class, $r = .517$, $n = 50$, $p = .008$.

Third, we can appraise the correlations between students' app using experience (Factor 3 and 4 in Table 26.1) and their habits (Factor 5 and 6 in Table 26.1). There were positive and strong correlations between participants' WeChat using experience and habit: the more they enjoyed using the app, the more often they used it outside of class, $r = .559$, $n = 50$, $p < .001$, and the more likely they used it more frequently than other personal Social Media apps (e.g. Facebook), $r = .318$, $n = 50$, $p = .021$. At the same time, the more they found WeChat helpful to their Chinese learning, the more often they used it outside of class, $r = .594$, $n = 50$, $p < .001$, and the more likely they used it more frequently than other personal Social Media apps (e.g. Facebook), $r = .418$, $n = 50$, $p = .008$.

In short, by reviewing the relationships among the three sets of factors, it is revealed that students' cognitive perception was more strongly correlated with their WeChat using experience than with their WeChat using habits, whereas students' WeChat using habits by and large were significantly correlated with their using experience.

Correlations Between Self-Reported Behavior and Actual Performance

A Pearson product-moment correlation coefficient was computed to assess the relationship between participants' self-reported behavior in the post-project survey and their actual behavior in using WeChat for their CFL study. The correlation was positive but not significant between participants' self-reported behavior that they were effective and stayed on the communicative inter-institutional task and their actual output and participation in the WeChat group, $r = .363$, $n = 29$, $p = .053$. Similarly, the correlation was not significant between participants' self-reported behavior that they were capable of incorporating the WeChat discussion to their own writing and their actual output and participation in the WeChat group, $r = .176$, $n = 29$, $p = .36$. In

succinct, participants' self-reported behavior was not an accurate representation of their actual activity in the WeChat discussion.

Research Question 2: *What affordance can such social media as WeChat provide and how effective can CFL learners use it to finish interactive discussion tasks?*

Based on the results of the post—project reflection survey illustrated in Figure 26.2, 50 percent of the students realized that using WeChat was helpful to making friends and completing interpersonal tasks in their CFL class. The lingual and cultural benefits of WeChat was identified by 42 percent and 30 percent of students respectively. About 20 percent of the participants in the study recognized the value of WeChat in aiding them in completing the interpretive and presentational tasks.

Additionally, WeChat afforded users with more positive learning environment. As mentioned above, in contract to those students ($N = 32$) who were required to participate in the inter-institutional WeChat group discussion, the other students ($N = 18$) only used WeChat for optional informal peer communication. For instance, students might ask each other questions about homework assignments or initiate informal discussions about any topics. There were no statistical differences between the non-participants and participants in their perception (Factor 1 and 2 in Figure 26.3), user experience of the app (Factor 3 and 4), and their app using habit (Factor 5

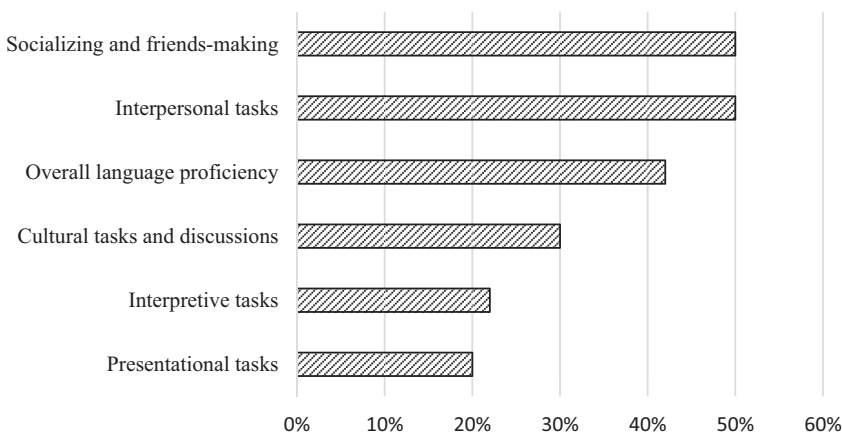


Figure 26.2 Benefits of social media for CFL learning (post-project reflection survey)

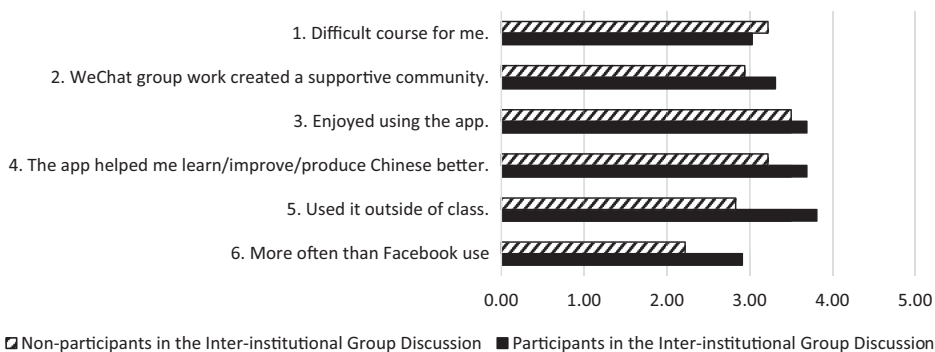


Figure 26.3 Compared perception, experience, and habit between participants and non-participants

and 6). However, participants of the inter-institutional WeChat group discussion task showed a consistently more positive view about WeChat. They found the course less challenging than their nonparticipation peers. They also described that the WeChat group discussion work created a supportive community for their Mandarin study. As Figure 26.3 demonstrated, they had a more affirmative experience and habits in using WeChat for their CFL learning.

Research Question 3: *What ecological challenges do CFL learners face when undertaking discussion tasks in a dynamic community setting via a social media tool such as WeChat?*

In the inter-institutional WeChat group discussion task for Unit 2, students contributed a total of 159 entries on the app. Going through all the posts, it was found that 76.3 percent of students ($N = 29$) completed the communicative task on WeChat in Chinese according to the teachers' requirement. Another two students participated in the discussion, but they shared their story in English. The rest students (18.4%) did not participate in the discussion at all. Of all the participants, 27.6 percent just made one entry in the group WeChat. In other words, these students did not carry on real conversations with their peers at another institution, and they simply shared their story in order to complete the task. This lack of meaningful interaction was also testified by the results of the post-project survey.

Nearly 70 percent of the students (illustrated in Figure 26.4) identified the lack of responsiveness or collaboration of their partners as the primary challenge of using WeChat in their group discussion task. Secondary challenges came from how much time it involved (36.1%) and the resistance of students to be fully engaged in the discussion (22.2%). Despite that fact the intention of the group discussion task was to promote peer-to-peer communication, 16.7 percent of the students still expected more teacher or NS involvement. A small group of students were not convinced by the relevancy or effectiveness of the WeChat inter-institutional group discussion task.

Furthermore, students tend to build a course-based CFL learning community naturally through weekly face-to-face interactions within a semester, but to create an online community via a social media app such as WeChat might take more time and efforts. In the present study, students were asked to report at the end of the semester how much they felt 'I have a supportive

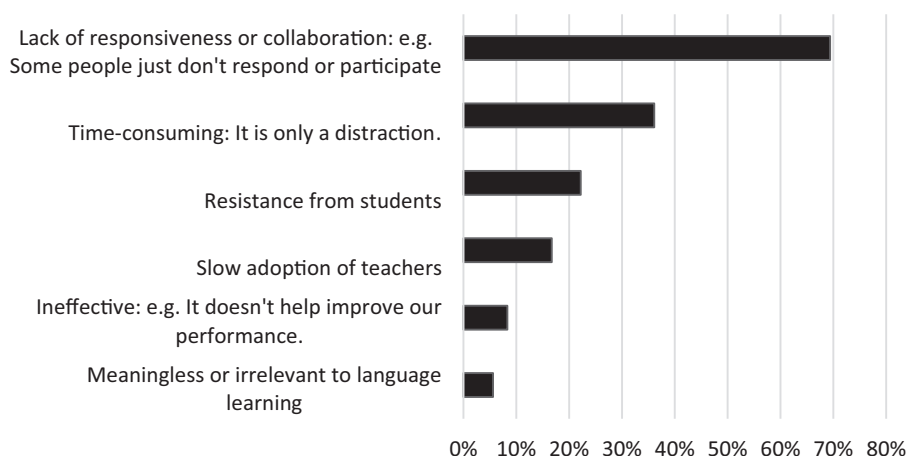


Figure 26.4 Challenges of using social media for CFL learning (post-project reflection survey)

community for my Mandarin study' in both their reflection of the overall experience in the course and their experience with the WeChat group. The same question was asked at the beginning of the semester. The results of the paired-sample t-tests revealed that students developed a stronger connection with their actual class community than the virtual community built on WeChat. On one end, a paired-sample t-test was conducted to compare students' overall experience and sense of community with the actual class at the beginning and at the end of the semester. The difference was not statistically significant in students' perception at the beginning of the semester ($M = 4.08$, $SD = .19$) and at the end of the semester ($M = 4.24$, $SD = .20$); $t(24) = -.75$, $p = .461$. In other words, students' sense of community with their actual class did change over the course of 16 weeks from 4.08/5.00 to 4.24/5.00, but such change was not significant. On the other end, however, the paired-sample t-test revealed a significant distinction between students' sense of community associated with the actual class ($M = 4.24$, $SD = .20$) and that with the virtual group ($M = 3.28$, $SD = .27$) at the end of the semester, $t(24) = 2.79$, $p = .010$. That indicated that students shared stronger bonding with their classmates than their WeChat partners. Some students also reflected that they felt intimidated to chat with strangers from another institution and that was the main reason why they did not actively participate in the WeChat group discussion.

Discussion & Conclusion

The present study adopted a theory pluralism framework to design the instructional process (the *backward design method* and *5E Constructivist Learning Cycle*) and the empirical research. Three research questions were examined, and the data were analyzed through the lens of *Interactionist Approach* (Gass 2010) and *Ecological Approach* (van Lier 2000 and 2004; Li 2018). The results revealed that despite a more positive attitude towards the use of WeChat in the intermediate CFL class and the strong correlations between students' perception, experience, and habits after 15 weeks, it turned out that participants' actual behavior in the inter-institutional WeChat group discussion was less active than their self-reported behavior. Similarly, in spite of the reported social, linguistic, and cultural benefits of WeChat use, participants found it challenging to carry on meaningful interactions in a timely manner and get committed to an online community. Participants were more connected to their actual class community than the virtual community.

For future SMLL studies, the following pedagogical implications of this study may be beneficial. First, it is crucial for teachers and researchers to kindle CFL learners' perceptive senses to what they would experience in the social media environment, and/or to create simple tasks for them to get acquainted with each other before gradually engaging them in a meaningful language task. The findings in the previous section revealed that some students felt intimidated to carry on language-focused chat with strangers, and unsurprisingly, it took more time and efforts to build an online community via such social media apps as WeChat. Consequently, teachers' conscious guidance and gradual release of responsibilities become especially important because the perceptual experience (students feeling intimidated) to a great extent determines the empirical content of their experience (the sense of community), and noticing is the essential starting point for any L2 acquisition. Van Lier (2004) also distinguished four basic organizing constructs of ecology in language learning, including perception (multimodal, multisensory), action (activity), relation (self and identity), and quality (of educational experience). Similar to the growing studies on noticing, awareness, and attention in SLA research, it is of increasing value to address perceptual learning in SLA. Van Lier in 2004 stressed the active role of the perceiver in exploring the landscape of information as they were selective in picking up the information driven by their internal purposes. Li's result (2018) also supported that WeChat as a social media app

offered a tremendous number of semiotic resources in the target language, but acquisition did not occur until CFL learners were ready attitude, aptitude or ability-wise.

Second, in addition to raising students' level of mindful noticing of their perceptive learning process, CFL teachers also need to integrate social media use into their long-term teaching practice. The profit of using social media in L2 settings takes more than one semester or sporadic use to be manifested. As delineated in the results, students' cognitive perception shaped their WeChat user experience, and their user experience strongly affected their using habit. It is a long-term pursuit to help students willingly and habitually use social media outside of class for their own language development.

Last but not least, when students are assigned to small groups to carry on communicative tasks, a certain level of instructional presence or intervention is a must. To reiterate one of the findings of the study, participants' self-reported behavior was not a reliable indicator of their actual behavior. Clear task instruction alone is not sufficient for student success, L2 teachers also need to model and monitor the task implementation process when it is necessary. For instance, the teacher may ask a random group during class time to report their progress. Then the teacher may provide immediate feedback, and ask other groups to share their ideas. Another example of instructional intervention is when students indicate slow peer responses in a group, the teacher may need to observe that group closely, diagnose the challenge and offer additional assistance specific to members of that group.

To design a well-constructed future SMLL study, it is momentous to start with a clear concept of the theoretical framework, be it a psycholinguistic approach, an interactionist (CMC) approach, a sociocultural approach or an ecological approach, and follow systematic processes to align content, assessment, and learning tasks with well-constructed guidelines and procedures. Such processes will help incorporate negotiated, mediated creation of meaning among learners, and between learners and teachers. Furthermore, such processes will activate learning strategies of participants, and prompt them to use cognitive and metacognitive skills to make L2 acquisition more effective. It must also be recognized that SMLL may personalize and socialize L2 learning, but it demands substantial administrative support of the teacher, which means full inclusion into the curriculum, careful screening to ensure optimal pairing, situate learning with comprehensible input and within the Zone of Proximal Development of the learner.

To implement a well-constructed SMLL project, congruent with other CALL studies, it involves an iterative process of development, evaluation, and improvement. It forces teachers, content creators and/or instructional designers to make a weighted decision in task design and technological functions between theoretical validity and practical effectiveness based on the feedback of learners or end-users. Ultimately, an effective design of L2 learning process should go beyond the basic level of individual enhancement or simple linguistic development, and extend to the social inclusion and political or philosophical participation (refer to Van Lier 2004 for a discussion of an effective democracy). SMLL not only has the advantage to provide the essential condition of communities for L2 learners to interact socially, intellectually, culturally, and personally, but it may also create a platform for them to construct, maintain, and transform specific practices they envision being able to influence.

References

- Blake, R. J. (2013) 'Social networking and L2 learning'. In *Brave New Digital Classroom: Technology and Foreign Language Learning*, 2nd edn., 153–162.
- Cai, S. and Zhu, W. (2012) 'The impact of an online learning community project on university Chinese as a foreign language students' motivation'. *Foreign Language Annals* 45(3): 307–329.

- Chatti, M. A., Jarke, M. and Specht, M. (2010) 'The 3P learning model'. *Educational Technology & Society* 13(4): 74–85.
- Diao, W. (2014) '(Dis)engagement in Internet linguistic practices among sojourners in China'. In S. Li. and P. Swanson (eds.), *Engaging Language Learners through Technology Integration: Theory, Applications and Outcomes*, 162–180. Hershey, PA: IGI-Global.
- Ellis, R. (2003) *The Study Of Second Language Acquisition*, 2nd ed. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Gass, S. (1988) Integrating research areas: A framework for second language studies. *Applied Linguistics* 9, 198–217.
- Gass, S. (2010) Interactionist perspectives on second language acquisition. In R. B. Kaplan (ed.), *The Oxford Handbook of Applied Linguistics*, 217–231. Oxford University Press.
- Hoven, D. (1999) 'CALL-ing the learner into focus: Towards a learner-centred model'. In R. Debski and M. Levy (eds.), *WorldCALL*, 149–168.
- Hubbard, P. (2008) 'Twenty-five years of theory in the CALICO journal'. *CALICO Journal* 25(3): 387–399.
- Li, J. (2018) 'Digital affordances on WeChat: Learning Chinese as a second language'. *Journal of Computer Assisted Language Learning* 31(1), 27–52.
- Liao, J. L. (2010) *The Impact of Interactive Discussions on L2 Chinese Composition Writing*. Unpublished doctoral dissertation. The University of Iowa, Iowa.
- Levy, M. (2002) 'CALL by design: Discourse, products, and processes'. *ReCALL* 14(1): 58–84.
- Levy, M. and Stockwell, G. (2006) *CALL Dimensions: Options and Issues in Computer Assisted Language Learning*. Mahwah, NJ: Lawrence Erlbaum.
- Luo, H. and Yang, C. S. (2016) 'Using WeChat in Teaching L2 Chinese: An exploratory study'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 7(2): 82–96.
- Salaberry, R. (1999) 'A commentary on Carol Chapelle's CALL in the year 2000: Still in search of research paradigms'. *Language Learning & Technology* 3(1): 104–107.
- Wang, W. and Tsung, L. (2015) 'Contemporary Chinese discourse from sociolinguistic perspectives'. In L. Tsung and W. Wang (eds.), *Contemporary Chinese Discourse and Social Practice in China*, 1–10. Amsterdam/Philadelphia: John Benjamins Publishing Company.
- Thorne, S. L. and Smith, B. (2011) 'Second language development theories and technology-mediated language learning'. *CALICO Journal* 28(2): 268–277.
- van Lier, L. (2000) 'From input to affordance: Social-interactive learning through an ecological perspective'. In J. P. Lantolf (ed.), *Sociocultural Theory and Second Language Learning*, 155–177. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.
- van Lier, L. (2004) 'The semiotics and ecology of language learning: Perception, voice, identity and democracy'. *Utbildning och demokrati* 13(3): 79–103.
- Wang, S. G. (2013) *Intermediate-Level Chinese Language Learners 'Social Communication in Chinese on Facebook: A Mixed Methods Study*. Unpublished Doctoral Dissertation. University of South Florida, Florida.
- Wang, S. G. and Vasquez, C. (2014) 'The effect of target language use in social media on intermediate-level Chinese language learners' writing performance'. *CALICO* 31(1): 78–102.
- Wang, Y. L., Borst, S., Feng, J. L. and Chang, R. (2015) 'It does matter with whom you chat: Chinese learners' perspective on NS vs NNS chat partners'. *Studies in Chinese Learning and Teaching* 1(1): 18–29.
- Wang, Y. L., Borst, S., Feng, J. L., Chang, R. and Crooks, S. (2013) *Chinese Learners' Attitudes towards Chat Partners in Computer-Mediated Communication*. Retrieved from www.aect.org/pdf/proceedings13/2013/13_31.pdf.
- Wang, Y. L., Crooks, S. and Borst, S. (2017) 'Chinese learners' anxiety toward chat partners in computer-mediated communication'. *Chinese as a Second Language. The Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association, USA* 52(2): 127–147.
- Wang, Z. (2015) 'Effects of using WeChat in an experimental CFL program'. *Open Education Research* 21: 113–118.
- Xu, Q. and Peng, H. Y. (2017) 'Investigating mobile-assisted oral feedback in teaching Chinese as a second language'. *Computer Assisted Language Learning* 30(3–4): 173–182.

Appendix A

Abbreviation and Acronyms Used in This Chapter

ACTFL: American Council on Teaching Foreign Languages

AI: Artificial Intelligence

CA: Conversation Analysis

CFL: Chinese as a Foreign Language

CALL: Computer-assisted Language Learning

CMC: Computer-mediated Communication

HSK: Hanyu Shuiping Kaoshi, a standardized proficiency test for non-native speakers offered by Hanban, the Office of Chinese Language Council International, originally called China National Office for Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language during 2002 to 2006.

MALL: Mobile assisted Language Learning

NNSs: Non-native speakers

NSs: Native speakers

SLA: Second Language Acquisition

SMLL: Social Media Language Learning

Appendix B

The Pre-Project Perception Survey for Students

The purpose of the questionnaire is to understand your experience of learning Mandarin and participation of different projects in the class. Your answers will provide valuable feedback on supporting future curriculum development and inter-institutional collaborations. Thank you for your participation.

What do you consider to be your native language?

- English
- Spanish
- Other, please specify_____

Are you of Chinese heritage (one or more of your parents/grandparents speak Chinese/a dialect of Chinese)?

- No.
- Yes, one of my parents/grandparents speak Chinese.
- Yes, both of my parents/grandparents speak Chinese.
- Other, please specify_____

How often do you participate in online forums/bulletin boards (including the Discussion Board on BlackBoard) or other online communities/groups for your academic studies? What do you think about them?

- Never, and I don't think they are important.
- Never, but I think they might be helpful.
- Only a few times a week, but I don't think they are helpful.
- Only a few times a week, and I find them very helpful.
- Very often, but I don't think they are helpful.
- Very often, and I find them very helpful.
- Other, please specify_____

I feel I have a supportive community for my Mandarin study.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

How proficient are you in using social media (e.g. Facebook, Instagram, WeChat, etc.)?

	1	2	3	4	5	
Not at all	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Very much so

For what purpose(s) do you use social media? Check all that apply.

- Personal networking (family, friends)
- Professional/business/career-related networking
- Entertainment/recreational use (hobbies, interests)
- Educational/ knowledge-sharing
- General informational (up-to-date events & news)
- Marketing/promotional
- Mandarin study related
- Other, please specify _____

How often do you use social media for your Mandarin learning? What do you think about it?

- Never, and I don't think it is important.
- Never, but I think it might be helpful.
- Only a few times a week, but I don't think it is helpful.
- Only a few times a week, and I find it very helpful.
- Very often, but I don't think it is helpful.
- Very often, and I find it very helpful.
- Other, please specify _____

What benefits do you believe social media will bring in learning Mandarin (select no more than four options)?

- Overall language proficiency
- Interpretive tasks (e.g. listening and reading exercises)
- Interpersonal tasks (e.g. person-to-person interactions, interviews, etc.)
- Presentational tasks (e.g. speaking, writing, etc.)
- Cultural tasks and discussions
- Socializing and making friends with other Chinese-speaking people
- N/A. Never used it. No comments.

What challenges do you believe may occur while using social media in learning Mandarin (select no more than four options)?

- Ineffective: e.g. It doesn't help improve our performance.
- Time-consuming: It is only a distraction.
- Lack of responsiveness or collaboration: e.g. Some people just don't respond or participate.
- Meaningless or irrelevant to language learning
- Slow adoption of teachers
- Resistance from students
- N/A. Never used it. No comments.

Appendix C

The Post-Project Reflection Survey for Students

The purpose of the questionnaire is to understand your experience of learning Mandarin and reflect your participation in different projects in the course. Your answers will provide valuable feedback to future curriculum development and inter-institutional collaborations. Thank you for your participation.

Your perception about this course so far:

1. I feel I have a supportive community for my Mandarin study.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

2. I would rate my own performance in this course as very successful.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

3. This course is very difficult for me.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

4. I really like the performances/acting out.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

What would help you (max three choices) do a better job in this course?

- I am fine with the current arrangement. No external factors but me myself. If I myself put more time into this, I will do a much better job.

- More time scheduled for each unit (i.e. for practices and rehearsals).
- Teacher should be more organized.
- More specific guidelines provided for activities.
- More detailed feedback from instructor for my essays, skits, tests, etc.
- Change my partner(s)/WeChat friends for me please.
- Other, please specify_____

General user experience with WeChat:

1. I actually enjoyed using the app.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

2. I am very proficient with it now.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

3. It helps me learn/improve/produce Chinese better.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

4. I use it outside of my classes to connect with other Chinese learners.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

5. After participating in WeChat discussion groups, I feel I have a supportive community for my Mandarin study.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

6. I use Facebook more often than WeChat this semester.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

7. The inter-institutional interactions make this course more fun and practical.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

What benefits did social media bring in learning Mandarin (select no more than four options)?

- Overall language proficiency.
- Interpretive tasks (e.g. listening and reading exercises)
- Interpersonal tasks (e.g. person-to-person interactions, interviews, etc.)
- Presentational tasks (e.g. speaking, writing, etc.)
- Cultural tasks and discussions
- Socializing and making friends with other Chinese-speaking people
- N/A. Never used it. No comments.

What challenges did you notice while using social media in learning Mandarin (select no more than four options)?

- Ineffective: e.g. It doesn't help improve our performance.
- Time-consuming: It is only a distraction.
- Lack of responsiveness or collaboration: e.g. Some people just don't respond or participate.
- Meaningless or irrelevant to language learning
- Slow adoption of teachers
- Resistance from students
- N/A. Never used it. No comments.

Learning experience with the WeChat group discussion task

1. I understood the purpose of the task clearly.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

2. I listened to/read others posts in my group and used their examples in my own report/composition.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

3. I understood my partners perfectly.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

4. I shared my story/experience in as much Chinese as possible.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

5. My partners understood me perfectly.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

6. I listened to/read others' feedback for me.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

7. I gave immediate acknowledgment or constructive feedback to others.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

8. I stayed on task and it was effective.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

9. I was able to incorporate the WeChat discussion to my own writing skillfully and naturally.

	1	2	3	4	5	
Strongly disagree	☐	☐	☐	☐	☐	Strongly agree

Give me some examples how WeChat was used in learning/practicing the topics and what you like/dislike it.

Teaching Chinese Through Film

Rationale, Practice, and Future Directions

Yanhong Zhu

The forces of globalization have brought about a complex process of worldwide social, economic, and cultural integration that constantly contests the relationship between the global and local, bringing to fore ‘the growing interconnectedness of different parts of the world’ and their ‘complex forms of interaction and interdependency’ (Thompson 1995: 149). Language, as the primary medium for human communication and interaction, plays an essential role in the age of globalization. Instead of being merely a fixed linguistic system, language is considered a commodified resource in the globalized new economy (Heller 2010) and a set of transcultural resources within the highly mobilized world (Blommaert and Dong 2010).

As China becomes increasingly integrated into the global system, the demand for Chinese language teaching has also grown significantly around the world in the past decades. Chinese language teaching, just like any other second or foreign-language education, aims primarily to cultivate learners’ communicative competence, defined as a synthesis of knowledge of both grammatical and sociolinguistic rules as well as communicative strategies (Canale and Swain 1980). Researchers in recent decades have also sought to bridge the traditional dichotomy between language and culture by emphasizing the significant roles culture plays in foreign-language education (Byram 1989; Kramsch 1993). Cultural teaching, therefore, has become an integral part of language education, and intercultural communicative competence, which combines communicative competence and intercultural competence, has become the ultimate teaching objective. Intercultural communicative competence entails ‘knowledge, skills, attitudes at the interface between several cultural areas’ (Risager 2005: viii) and requires learners to develop critical cultural awareness of their own country and others and reflect on their own cultural assumptions in the process of gaining new cultural knowledge of the target language (Byram 1997). Thus, as Claire Kramsch (2014: 305) contends, language teaching and learning in the era of globalization needs to adopt a pedagogy that ‘practices translations of all kinds across codes, modes, modalities, genres, and points of view’ in order to make language learners multilingual individuals who are willing to engage with differences in worldviews. Chinese language teaching in the global context should also adopt the multilingual and multicultural approach that Kramsch suggests, because Chinese is a language that has various presences in the world—being spoken and used in diverse cultural contexts both in China and the diaspora, and Chinese language learning is inseparable from the learning of Chinese culture associated both

with China's historical past and its contemporary transnational and multicultural situation (Lo Bianco 2011; Liu and Tao 2016).

Film is a perfect educational resource for teaching Chinese language and culture, because film, with the combined effects of 'its images, sounds, camera, plots and dialogues', not only provides authentic linguistic input, but also engages with issues of national identity, historical memory, and cultural specificity (Stephens 2001: 23). What makes Chinese film particularly suitable as a teaching resource for Chinese language education is that 'Chinese film', or more precisely the 'Chinese-language film', a term that has been widely used by film critics and scholars, refers not merely to the films produced in mainland China, but also to those produced in Hong Kong, Taiwan, and the Chinese diaspora. Teaching Chinese language through film, therefore, can expose students to the transnational characteristics of contemporary Chinese cinema marked by the frequent use of multilingualism and the implementation of multicultural perspectives and help students gain translanguingual and transcultural competence. This chapter aims to first discuss the rationale for incorporating film into the Chinese language curriculum, then explore the strategies for using film to teach Chinese in terms of film selection, classroom implementation, and learning outcome assessment measures. The last part of this chapter will point to some future directions of using film in Chinese language education.

Rationale: Why Use Film for Teaching Chinese?

Video-based teaching material (including video, film, television, and streaming media) has long been recognized by foreign-language educators as a rich and useful teaching resource. The value of video in foreign-language instruction was acknowledged by researchers and language instructors as early as the 1980s and Altman's 1989 book-length study, *The Video Connection: Integrating Video into Language Teaching*, further helped establish a new language pedagogy based on video. Compared to other teaching resources, video-based material has the greater potential for communicative language teaching, and video, as Broady (1998: 54) points out, 'provides the most accurate representation of language-in-use, that is, language embedded in a situation' and its wide range of 'visually coded paralinguistic features' can help viewers decipher the communicative intent of the speakers.

With the advancement of information technology, films are now easily accessible in digitized forms either on DVD or through the internet. Compared to textbooks, film discourse is much closer to 'the attested language of everyday life' (Gilmore 2010: 121), providing learners with genuine input intended for native speakers. In addition to its accessibility and authenticity, film can motivate learners and keep them engaged with the target language texts, which will ultimately lead to better language acquisition through sustained engagement (Gilmore 2010). Film also contains 'different layers of signification', which work together to immerse the viewers 'in the narrative, imagistic, and linguistic flow of the cinema' and help facilitate language acquisition, as linguistic difficulty posed by the film may oftentimes be overcome with the support of the film's visual and paralinguistic elements or even its affective power (Knee 2001: 145).

As discussed earlier, cultural studies are indispensable in second or foreign-language education, because language and culture are mutually supportive and inseparable, forming what Krash (1993: 9) calls a 'dialectic relationship'. Film, with its broad range of subject matters that touch upon various social, historical, and cultural events, can help deepen cultural knowledge and 'move students beyond mere tourist knowledge of foreign culture' (Stephens 2001: 23).

Chinese film, as Ling Luo (2016: 46–48) points out, is an extremely rich resource for teaching Chinese culture, because its unique features, such as the predominance of social ideology, the depiction of local cultural flavor, and the use of leitmotif, can expose students to the distinctive Chinese sociopolitical structure and cultural values; certain types of films or particular genre films, such as the historical films, literary adaptations, and martial arts films, through their exploration of China's historical past, reconstruction of the literary world, or revisits to classical Chinese thoughts, can also help students understand the Chinese perspectives on history and culture.

The last but not least rationale for integrating film in Chinese language teaching is to help develop students' media literacy in the age of technological advancement. It is argued that media literacy offers 'skills, tools, insights, and a vocabulary to understand the important role media plays in shaping, reflecting and sometimes subverting our cultural realities' (Bueno 2009: 322). Teaching Chinese language through film, therefore, can also facilitate film literacy and encourage students, who are now living in a world dominated by media, to look critically at images and understand the way in which ideas, meaning, and emotions are expressed through artful manipulation of visual elements.

Using Film in the Chinese Language Classroom: Strategies

Although the advantages of using film in foreign-language education have been recognized by many researchers and language educators, when it comes to practical applications, instructors are often confronted with numerous difficulties and challenges. Chapple and Curtis (2000: 422) list a number of reasons why film has not been widely used in EFL classrooms, which include 'time and syllabus constraints; lack of detailed knowledge about film on the part of teachers; a mistaken perception about the lack of pedagogical value of films; lack of technical equipment and expertise; availability of suitable films; cultural appropriateness; and the relative difficulty of film texts for language learners'. Many of the difficulties listed here are what Chinese language instructors encounter as well. In addition, the linguistic difficulties that foreign-language films pose are often so daunting that it is almost impossible for students to process other information such as cultural context after only one viewing of the films (Mu and Zhang 2005). Therefore, when using film in language classes, instructors usually find it hard to strike a proper balance between building language skills and teaching culture, as the primary focus of the classes is often to enhance students' comprehension of the linguistic input and overall understanding of the film, so that within normal class constraints it is difficult to facilitate cultural proficiency and develop critical thinking skills (Chen 2011). Additionally, even when students are linguistically prepared to discuss and analyze the film, they still need to learn to master certain film terminology to properly approach film as a visual medium.

To effectively use film in Chinese language classes, therefore, is to take advantage of its authentic linguistic input, its deep cultural content, and its medium specificity marked by its affective force and intuitive appeal and overcome as much as possible the above-mentioned difficulties and challenges. In what follows, some general strategies for using film in class will be proposed, addressing primarily the technical aspects of integrating film into class curriculum without differentiating the learners' language levels. A more detailed discussion of classroom implementation and assessment measures appropriate for different levels of Chinese language learners will be offered in the next section. Hopefully, these two sections will address some of the challenges and encourage more Chinese language educators to adopt film-based instruction in their classes.

Pre-screening: Providing Advanced Organizers

Researchers have cautioned against the passive viewing mode of students and emphasized the importance of keeping students critically engaged during the viewing and learning process (Knee 2001). Because film contains multiple layers of information, students may encounter difficulties in comprehending the film as a whole when there seems to be an overload of unfamiliar audio, visual, and cultural input. Herron (1994) points out that providing an advance organizer before the screening, that is, offering students with background information and contextual clues, can significantly enhance students' comprehension of a foreign-language video. Therefore, to properly prepare the students for the upcoming viewing of the film, instructors can provide them with a combination of the following material: a list of film related words, expressions, and grammatical structures (Hertel and Harrington 2015); an introduction to the director, the background of the film, and a short written description of the summary of the key scenes of the film (Herron 1994); a description of the film's generic characteristics and thematic emphases (Knee 2001). Written descriptions can also be combined with visual images, such as pictures or screenshots, to further help students understand the film better when it is screened.

Screening: A Sequential Model

The film viewing procedure faces particular challenges due to the time constraints of class. Screening films in-class is almost impractical because it will take up too much class time and significantly reduce the time for productive practices and discussions. Unless an additional screening session can be added to the regular class schedule, screenings of entire film, if necessary, should be done outside of class either through individual or group viewing.

Swaffer and Vlaten (1997) contend that it is unreasonable to expect students to gain full comprehension of authentic foreign films after just the initial viewing, and repetition is key to successful language acquisition. Instructors need to select several key scenes that are good for both language training and in-depth discussions and prepare film clips for easy and repeated viewing in class. To prepare the clips, instructors can either record the start and end time of all clips or use a DVD ripping software, such as WinX DVD Ripper, Handbrake, MacTheRipper, in consultation with the copyright department of the university. Video clips to be played in class should be short, so that they can be played repeatedly for practice and discussion purposes without taking up too much class time.

When playing the clips in class, instructors can follow the model of video playing proposed by Swaffer and Vlaten (1997: 177–182), in which video playing follows a five-stage sequence—initial silent viewing to identify basic information, second silent viewing to locate cultural features based on visual cues, third viewing with sounds to confirm or refute earlier findings after receiving linguistic input, fourth viewing to find minimal differences in word choice and understand nuanced meaning, and the fifth stage of producing language output by asking the students to reproduce the linguistic and visual input through in-class activities. The sequential model of video viewing is intended to be used for all kinds of video-based teaching material, therefore, instructors can modify the proposed use of sequences when film clips are being played. What is important is to focus on repetition and utilize alternating modes of playing—silent mode or sound mode—to train students' language skills. Debao Xu (2009) further emphasizes the importance of controlled and repetitive playback of video and examines various ways in which DVD can be incorporated into PowerPoint presentations so that video materials and class instructions, exercises and activities can be presented in a synchronized way to fulfill the goals of Integrative CALL (computer-assisted language learning).

An important issue to be considered here is the use of subtitle. Studies have shown that subtitles, whether they are in native language, target language, or in bimodal format, can greatly enhance students' listening comprehension and vocabulary acquisition (Danan 1992; Bueno 2009; Hayati and Mohmedi 2011; Luo 2016). The Chinese-language films available in the US are usually equipped with English subtitle and occasionally with bimodal subtitle. When playing the clips, instructors should decide whether to show the clips with or without subtitles based on students' level of language command. Instructor can also play the clip in silent mode with subtitles and then play the clip in sound mode without subtitles, so that the students may observe the visual cues and get an idea of what the clip is about and then practice listening skills in the second viewing.

Post-screening: Holistic and Balanced Approach for Discussions

While the pre-viewing and viewing activities focus primarily on the linguistic input of the film, such as lexical items and language structures, the post-viewing activities should take a more holistic approach. Mishan (2005: 218) argues that to fully exploit the potential of the multisensory aspect of the film in language education, instructors should consciously shift from the conventional 'comprehension-based approach' that emphasizes vocabulary lists and comprehension exercises to a 'content-based approach' that uses the input of the film 'not to *teach* language but to *release* it', allowing language acquisition to arise through responses to the film as such. Such an approach does not deny the significance of the linguistically based activities in the earlier part of the film viewing process, but it also calls for a shifting attention to the content and the cultural context of the film in the post-viewing stage.

Two instructional methodologies, the traditional teacher-centered instructivist approach and the student-centered constructivist approach, can both be employed in the post-screening classroom discussion sessions. Despite the fact that constructivist paradigm has gained much momentum in recent years in the field of education, as Zhang (2013: 78) points out, in the foreign-language classroom a 'balanced teaching approach' that combines both paradigms can most effectively enhance student learning, as students can achieve accuracy and appropriacy of language expressions as well as deep cultural understanding under the guidance of instructors and actively engage in improving their communicative and intercultural competence on their own through creative and collaborative activities. More detailed discussions of appropriate activities and assessment measures with regard to different levels of learners will be given in later sections.

Using Film in the Chinese Language Classroom: Implementation and Assessment

To effectively integrate film into the Chinese language classroom, instructors need to select appropriate films, prepare proper teaching materials, design suitable in-class activities, and use assessment to measure student learning through tasks, homework, and tests, all of which need to be based on students' levels of language proficiency. For the purpose of this chapter, three different levels of language proficiency will be discussed based on the ACTFL proficiency guidelines: novice, intermediate, and advanced.

Setting Learning Goals

The first step to effectively integrate film into the Chinese language classroom is to set appropriate learning goals for students. Depending on students' language proficiency levels and how the language courses are designed, instructors may set different pedagogical goals.

For novice and intermediate levels, most Chinese language classes already have rigorous schedules and film is rarely used as the primary teaching resource. Film, however, can be used to complement the existing teaching material. Both levels of learners should aim first and foremost at enhancing their linguistic competence through learning the vocabulary, idiomatic expressions, and grammatical structures included in the film or film clips. Film can provide learners the opportunity to see how certain words or grammatical structures are used in ‘real life’ communication process, often coupled with non-verbal cues like facial expressions and body language. In terms of cultural learning, novice learners can focus more on acquiring knowledge of the Chinese cultural practices and social propriety, while intermediate learners should be able to discuss their understanding of the cultural significance of the film and how it may (or may not) differ from their own culture.

For advanced-level learners, film can be more systematically integrated into the language classroom if the curriculum allows. While the linguistic aspects of learning are still indispensable, advanced-level learners should focus more on exploring the deeper social, cultural, and political meaning of the film while reflecting on their own perspectives. Advanced-level learners should also recognize the diversity of cultural representation and the fluidity of historical interpretation in Chinese-language cinema, as Chinese filmmakers from different cultural backgrounds or from different historical periods often depict the same cultural phenomenon or the same historical event in different ways. The adoption of the term ‘Chinese-language cinema’ or the use of the plural form as ‘Chinese cinemas’ indicates that Chinese cinema cannot be generalized under the umbrella of a singular ‘national cinema’ nor would it represent a unified national culture (Lim 2011: 35).

Selecting Films

Selecting appropriate films is the key step to the successful integration of film into Chinese language courses. Chinese-language films have become increasingly accessible to instructors in recent years, either on DVD or streaming platforms, such as Netflix, Hulu, Amazon Prime Video, etc. When selecting films, instructors need to consider the level of the language class and find films that are appropriate for the students’ language level.

For the novice and intermediate level courses, ideally instructors should choose films whose topics or themes are relatable to students’ interests and experiences and whose plots are clear and easy to follow. Here are a few possible categories of films, for example, films that deal with family life, such as Ang Lee (李安)’s *Eat Drink Man Woman* (饮食男女), Xiao Jiang (小江)’s *Electric Shadow* (电影往事), and Sun Zhou (孙周)’s *Breaking the Silence* (漂亮妈妈); films about campus life, such as Zhang Yimou’s *Not One Less* (一个都不能少), Frant Gwo (郭帆)’s *My Old Classmate* (同桌的你), and Vicky Zhao (赵薇)’s *So Young* (致青春); films on career aspirations, such as Xu Jinglei (徐静蕾)’s *Go! Lala, Go!* (杜拉拉升职记) and Chen Kexin (陈可辛)’s *American Dreams in China* (中国合伙人); or films that are lighthearted comedies, such as Teng Huatao (滕华涛)’s *Love is Not Blind* (失恋三十三天) and Xue Xiaolu (薛晓路)’s *Finding Mr Right* (北京遇上西雅图).

For advanced-level courses, in addition to the above-mentioned categories of films as possible choices, instructors should also select films that cover a wider range of subjects, such as historical films, leitmotif films, films that engage with contemporary social reality, and films that are adapted from literary works, so that students can gain deeper insight into China’s history, society, and cultural values. Engaging films that can challenge students’ stereotypical thinking, raise their awareness about cultural differences, and foster their intercultural competence, are the most appropriate. Furthermore, instructors can also use a comparative approach by bringing films on similar subjects but made by different directors (both from mainland China and

Chinese diaspora) or produced during different time periods into class discussion to provoke deeper inquiry into the issues of historical and cultural representation. A detailed discussion of the comparative approach will be given later.

As Chinese-language film includes films that are in Mandarin, Cantonese, and other dialects, instructors also need to take this aspect into account. For novice and intermediate levels, films in dialects other than Mandarin are not appropriate. For advanced levels, however, it is sometimes beneficial to students if they are exposed to films that contain dialects or multiple languages, because different dialects and languages often carry the unique culture of the region and students can gain a more in-depth understanding of the cultural diversity in contemporary China. Instructors, however, need to decide how much dialogues in dialects other than Mandarin Chinese are acceptable for the particular class, as the presence of dialects often increases the difficulty of the film for students.

Preparing Course Materials

Course materials are an essential component of language instruction at all levels. When preparing course materials for film-based language classes, instructors are often confronted with the dilemma of whether to resort to conventional textbooks. So far, only a few film-based textbooks have been published, including, for example, several in mainland China—*Learning Chinese Through Film* (看电影学汉语) (Wang 2005), *Learning Chinese Through Movies* (看电影, 学汉语) (Volume 1 and 2, Zhao and Liu 2010 and 2011), *Watching the Movie and Learning Chinese* (中国电影欣赏) (3 book series, Zhang et al., 2008), and *China in Movies: Chinese History* (电影看中国: 历史中国) (FLTRP Chinese Research and Development Center 2011), and one in the United States—*Readings in Contemporary Chinese Cinema* (Chou 2008).

All of these textbooks seek to address some of the difficulties of using film for language education by providing structured and systematic information of the films, such as film synopses, selected dialogue transcripts, vocabulary lists, practice exercises, discussion questions, etc. They are extremely useful in aiding students to develop a better command of the linguistic elements of the films and in challenging them to think critically about the social, political, and cultural issues the films explore. However, the available textbooks also have limitations. First of all, most of the textbooks are designed for intermediate high or advanced learners, so novice learners will not be able to fully take advantage of the textbooks. Second, Chinese-language film is such a rich resource that it is impossible to include all of the important and representative films in the textbooks, not to say the recently released ones, as textbooks usually take a long time to develop.

Instructors, therefore, should also develop their own course materials based on the films they have selected to meet their teaching objectives and student learning needs. Apart from designing in-class activities and homework assignments which will be discussed in the next section, there are two main types of materials that the instructors can prepare—transcripts of the scenes to be played in class and documents on the films, such as film synopses and analytical essays. Gilmore (2010: 122) maintains that the dialogue needs to be ‘frozen’ in a transcript first before any useful work can be done with the film discourse, because written transcripts often provide students with linguistic data that might have been missed during the viewing process. Mu and Zhang (2005) share similar concerns and propose using WebCT to make digitized textbooks in order to make more productive use of Chinese-language films in class. Transcripts and digitized textbooks have great advantages, but it may also be quite time consuming to make. For novice learners, a transcript along with a glossary and a list of key structures is often necessary. For intermediate and advanced learners, it is up to the instructors to decide, based on students’ needs, whether to provide the transcript or only a list of key phrases and structures. Advanced learners

can also take a more active role in the digitized textbook making process by working on it as a group project. In terms of film synopses and analytical essays, for novice learners, instructors usually need to write them to make sure that the language suits the students' proficiency level. For intermediate learners, instructors can either write their own material or introduce online resources from such websites as *baidu baike* (百度百科) and *douban dianying* (豆瓣电影). For advanced learners, if the students want to be truly challenged, instructors can assign one or two Chinese academic essays, accessible through CNKI (中国知网) or Wan Fang Data (万方数据), for students to read and discuss in class.

Classroom Implementation and Assessment Measures

As mentioned earlier, for all levels of film-based courses, instructors need to provide students with advance organizers before screening, follow a sequential mode of video playing in class, and employ a holistic and balanced approach for post-screening class activities. Hertel and Harrington (2015) offer a detailed and comprehensive list of pre-viewing, viewing, and post-viewing activities in their article on using documentary film in Spanish-language class. Many of the proposed activities are applicable for film-based courses in any language and the following discussion is very much indebted to the immensely important and useful work they have done. While Hertel and Harrington list the activities without differentiating their suitability for various proficiency levels, in what follows, a more selected list of possible activities will be given for different levels of classes.

I. Pre-Screening—Warm-Up Exercises

All Levels	
• Vocabulary and grammar practice: a contextualized vocabulary quiz can be given if the students have previewed all the material beforehand. Grammatical structures can be introduced through sample sentences from the film and be reinforced through further practices. • Viewing the trailer: instructors can show the trailer to give the students a general idea of what the film is about and ask questions based on the trailer to facilitate further communication.	
Novice Learners	Intermediate and Advanced Learners
• Instructors can give some background information about the film and/or introduce the characters and main plot of the film. • Reading: If students are provided with written introduction, instructors can either ask questions or encourage students to ask and answer the questions based on the material. • Instructors can provide some basic information about the particular cultural topic the film deals with.	• Instructors can ask students to do some research on the film. Intermediate learners may be given more guidance as to where to find such information. • Students can report their findings and introduce the characters, main plot, and important themes of the film to the class. • Students can read about the cultural topics either from given material or their own research.

II. Between Repeated Viewing—Comprehension Exercises

Listening Comprehension	All Levels
	• To check vocabulary: students can fill in the blanks by writing down the correct words or phrases heard from the clips • To check comprehension: students can complete true/false or multiple-choice exercises

Speaking Exercises	Novice Learners • Instructors can ask questions based on the content of the clips • Instructors can give the students a list of events and ask the students to retell the story by putting everything in a proper order Intermediate and Advanced Learners • Instructors can ask questions about both the content of the clips and the nuanced meaning of certain expressions • Instructors can ask the students to narrate the story based on the given key phrases and/or structures
---------------------------	--

III. Post-screening—Analysis and Cultural Reflection

Speaking Exercises	All Levels • Discuss the protagonists and themes depicted in the clips and their cultural significance • Do presentations and/or engage in debates on specific viewpoints or cultural topics expressed in the clips • Express their opinion on the protagonists and themes depicted in the clips and reflect on how they could have been depicted from their own cultural perspectives • Participate in role-plays either to represent the scenes or to perform the scenes from a different perspective
Reading & Writing Exercises	Novice Learners • Read supplementary material related to the film (usually prepared and written by the instructors) • Write a short paragraph reflecting on the film and/or the reading Intermediate and Advanced Learners • Read film reviews or academic articles if suitable • Rewrite or write an extension to the ending of the story • Write a film review or an analytical essay on the particular theme(s)/topic(s) of the film

Many of the above-mentioned activities, such as vocabulary quizzes, reading comprehension tests, oral presentations, role-play performances, and writing assignments can be used for assessment purposes. Instructors for different levels of classes can decide on what testing formats they want to use to assess students' learning outcomes. Instructors can also ask students to take the same specifically designed test before and after the lessons to measure the effectiveness of class instruction.

Promoting Intercultural Competence

While the majority of the activities discussed above focus primarily on enhancing students' communicative competence in terms of their linguistic ability and cultural knowledge, some that focus on enhancing students' intercultural and transcultural competence, that is, 'the ability and willingness to reconsider one's own perspective and position by engaging in intercommunication with the other' (Alter 2014: 57), are also extremely important. To achieve this goal, students have to first explore and learn about the Other and understand the Other's perspectives, then reflect on their own perspectives, and finally seek to appreciate the differences in

perspectives and cultural practices. For learners of all levels, activities like presentations and debates that engage with both the perspectives presented from the films and those of their own, will help students learn to communicate across cultural boundaries. For more advanced learners, as mentioned earlier, a comparative approach that introduces different films on similar cultural topics or socio-historical events will help them examine the ways in which Chinese history, culture, and society are represented in cinema and understand how cinematic representations are often shaped by the particular social-political context of their production. Chen (2011) in her discussion on how to use film in advanced Chinese language classes also acknowledges the benefits of using a comparative approach. Comparing Zhang Yimou's *To Live* (活着) to Roberto Benigni's *Life is Beautiful* and István Szabó's *Sunshine*, Chen urges the students to rethink whether the survival mentality depicted in *To Live* is distinctly 'Chinese' or if it reflects more of a universal human condition. Comparisons like this that locate possible transcultural elements in a film that is otherwise set entirely in China's historical past is particularly useful in helping students think critically about socio-historical events and their artistic representation. The following discussion will offer a few more examples on the possible topics, themes or genre films the instructors can focus on when using the comparative approach.

Two topics are most frequently discussed in Chinese language classes, the concept of family and the theme of love. The importance of family and the idea of filial piety are usually introduced to students early in their studies. As students become more advanced, instructors can also ask students to explore how the concept of family evolves in various cinematic works. The family in the film adaptation of Ba Jin (巴金)'s novel *Family* (家), for example, is depicted as the ultimate representation of Confucian ideology in the early Republican period. In Zhang Yimou's *To Live*, Tian Zhuangzhuang (田壮壮)'s *The Blue Kite* (蓝风筝), and Hou Hsiao-hsien (侯孝贤)'s *A City of Sadness* (悲情城市), however, the fate of the family is closely tied to the major historical and political events the films depict. While each film deals in their own ways with the contradiction of the impossibility of representing historical trauma and the imperative of historical remembrance, family is no longer represented as a symbol of the oppressing patriarchal order, but rather a vulnerable unit that is easily disintegrated by the traumatic forces of history. Ang Lee's *Eat Drink Man Woman* and *The Wedding Banquet* (喜宴) also center around the concept of the family, but the former delineates the relationship within a Taiwanese family, while the latter explores the family relationship within a cross-cultural context and highlights the cultural clash between East and West, between modernity and tradition. Through the discussion of the various ways the concept of family is explored in film, students will be able to rethink what family means to them and how the concept of family may also have different expressions in American literary or cinematic works.

The theme of love is explored in many Chinese-language films. Xue Xiaolu's *Finding Mr Right*, a romantic comedy that took the Chinese box-office by storm when it was released in 2013, can be a good text to start with. It is a film about love, but also about women's self-discovery; it traces the personal story of Jiajia—a once materialistic pregnant woman who goes to America to give birth, but it also represents a whole generation of modern Chinese women who are caught between materialism and love against the backdrop of China's rapid economic growth. Students can respond to various issues the film explores, such as Birth Tourism, materialism, and the significance of women's economic status. Instructors can also ask students to compare this film with Wong Kar-wai (王家卫)'s *Chungking Express* (重庆森林) or *In the Mood for Love* (花样年华) and with Ang Lee's *Lust, Caution* (色戒). In contrast to the romantic happy ending of *Finding Mr Right*, Wong's films explore the theme of unrequited love while Lee's film confronts the issue of forbidden love and desire. By placing these films in comparison with one another in terms of cinematic representation of love, students can see how directors with

different backgrounds and different artistic vision and sensibility can explore the same theme in drastically different ways.

Certain genre films are also excellent teaching resources. Historical films, for example, can not only give students a general understanding of important historical events, but also help them recognize how historical representations of the same event vary as each film takes a different perspective. The Nanjing Massacre has been brought to the silver screen by many directors. Lu Chuan (陆川)'s 2009 film *City of Life and Death* (南京! 南京!) boasts a new perspective compared to numerous other films on the Nanjing Massacre that were made before. Using *City of Life and Death* as the main film for viewing and discussion while comparing it to clips from other films, such as Luo Guanqun (罗冠群)'s 1987 film *Massacre in Nanjing* (屠城血证), instructors can ask a series of questions to push students to explore the relationship between history and historical representation. For example, why does *Massacre in Nanjing* include photographs and newsreel footages in the film? What functions do they serve? From what perspectives are these two films told? How do these two films contribute to different narratives of the same historical event? Instructors can also compare Lu Chuan's film to Zhang Yimou's *Flowers of War* (金陵十三钗), another film that deals with the same historical event, and ask students to think critically about the representation of women in both films and explore how women's heroism is represented within the context of their victimization.

Films mentioned earlier like Zhang Yimou's *To Live*, Tian Zhuangzhuang's *The Blue Kite*, as well as Chen Kaige (陈凯歌)'s *Farewell My Concubine* (霸王别姬) all seek to examine the traumatic experience of ordinary people during China's tumultuous recent history. All three films use a cultural artifact—Shadow Play in *To Live*, Peking Opera in *Farewell My Concubine*, and kite in *The Blue Kite*—as a common thread to tie the narratives together. Students can discuss the significance of using such cultural artifacts, how they are linked to the fate of the main protagonists, and what symbolic meaning these artifacts carry in the films. François Girard's *The Red Violin* traces the travel of another artifact—a perfect red violin—from Italy in the seventeenth century when it was first made to other parts of the world over three centuries' time, including China during the Cultural Revolution. Instructors can ask the students to discuss how Cultural Revolution and its impact on individual lives are represented in this film by the French-Canadian director and how directors from different countries with different perspectives may portray the same historical period differently. The function of the artifacts in these films, especially that of the red violin that travels through time and distance across historical periods and cultural boundaries, can be discussed further to make students explore the complex relationship between art and history.

Martial arts films are particularly popular among students. Students may be attracted to this genre primarily because of the visual splendor of *kung fu*, but instructors can ask students to explore two key concepts of the martial arts world—the knight-errant (*xia* 侠) and the *jianghu* (江湖). Both Zhang Yimou's *Hero* (英雄) and Hou Hsiao-hsien's *The Assassin* (刺客聂隐娘) feature a knight-errant who at once observes and subverts the code of chivalry. Instructors can ask students to explore how the knight-errant is portrayed differently in each film and how the context in which the film is made may have impacted the cinematic representation. While Zhang Yimou's *Hero* presents a viewpoint in line with the official ideology that promotes national unity, Hou Hsiao-hsien's *The Assassin* reveals profound humanistic concerns seen in many of his other films. Students can also compare how each film deals with the genre conventions and discuss how such treatment may reflect the director's artistic vision as well as his understanding and interpretation of martial arts. The martial arts world of *jianghu* is explored both in Ang Lee's *Crouching Tiger, Hidden Dragon* (卧虎藏龙) and Wong Kar-wai's *The Grandmaster* (一代宗师). By comparing these two films, students can discuss how each film both sticks to and deviates from

the conventional martial arts genre and learn about some of the key characteristics of *jianghu* represented differently in these two films.

Finally, films that have been adapted from literary works can also be integrated into Chinese language class by comparing them to the original literary texts. In addition to language proficiency and cultural knowledge, what students can develop through this kind of exercise is the ability to translate between different codes—from written texts to visual materials—and appreciate the value and meaning of both. Wang (2011) proposes a variety of activities that can be employed in class, such as examining the changes the film adaptation has made, discussing how the film visualizes the written words, and checking to see if the film adaptation and the original literary works share the same theme or express the same idea. Jean-Jacques Annaud's *Wolf Totem* (狼图腾), for example, is a film adaptation of Jiang Rong (姜戎)'s novel in the same title. When Jiang Rong's novel was first published, it incurred a lot of controversy, as its support of 'wolf nature' and 'wolf spirit' was considered a cultural reflection of Chinese national character by some (Hong 2008), but also an indication of 'regression of human civilization' by others (Long 2007). The film adaptation, however, downplays the cultural reflection so deeply rooted in the original literary text and focuses instead on the universal issue of ecology (Zhu 2018). Students can compare clips from the film with certain passages from the original novel, discuss how each text reflects different sociocultural concerns, and explore further the complex issue of film adaptation.

It would be impossible to list every option here, as there is a plethora of ways to compare films and discuss different topics. The most important point to keep in mind is that when films are used to teach Chinese language and culture and to encourage students to move beyond their own perspectives and understand the other's perspectives, instructors should also push students to recognize that these 'other' perspectives are not necessarily monolithic or unified. They may sometimes be riddled with differences or contradictions, while at other times they may not necessarily be distinctively different from their own. Students, apart from learning more about Chinese history, society, and culture through film, need to also foster an appreciation of the inherent multiple perspectives and multiculturalism in contemporary Chinese-language cinema.

Future Directions: What Else Can We Do?

When film is incorporated into the language teaching curriculum, instructors normally discuss its theme, content, dialogues or the cultural information to enhance students' linguistic skills and cultural competence and rarely pay attention to the formal aspects of the film. Knee (2001) points out that we need to read film as film, so that film's medium characteristics also need to be incorporated into class discussion. For example, when discussing a particular scene of a film, we may ask whether the camera is fixed or is it moving? What kind of shots are used? Is it a close-up, a medium shot or a long shot? Is the scene done in one take? If not, what kind of editing techniques have been used, such as montage, dissolve, and superimposition? How is the mise-en-scene used to create certain effects? Is there music in the scene? Is it diegetic or non-diegetic music? To direct students' attention to the formal and technical aspects of the film will help students learn a new set of vocabulary of film terminology and develop their media literacy. They will learn to use the new vocabulary to analyze the film narrative, not merely based on dialogues but also on its artistic elements, and understand how these various elements of the film work together to shape the film's narrative and how ideas and emotions are expressed visually. To take Lou Ye (娄烨)'s *Suzhou River* (苏州河) as an example, the opening sequence uses a documentary style of filming and shows a series of shots of the so-called dirtiest river in Shanghai, the Suzhou river. Students can discuss the significance of using a handheld camera in shooting this sequence

and what effects such a filming style achieves. Towards the end of the sequence, as the boat drifts down the river, Shanghai's landmark, the Oriental Pearl Tower, appears in the frame. Students can discuss what this shot symbolizes by juxtaposing the old and the new in the same frame and how it helps establish, at the very beginning, the central theme and overall tone of the film.

Second, based on the available textbooks and published studies, it seems that documentary films have not been widely used to teach Chinese language and culture. Some may argue that fiction films are usually easier to understand because they have a coherent storyline and may also be more engaging as they tend to be more entertaining. However, documentary film, with its deeply committed social consciousness, is also a wonderful teaching resource. Students can learn a lot about contemporary China from documentary films, such as pollution and other environmental issues seen from films like Chai Jing (柴静)'s *Under the Dome* (穹顶之下) and Wang Jiuliang (王久良)'s *Plastic China* (塑料王国), and the living and working conditions of the marginalized Chinese depicted in films like Qin Xiaoyu and Wu Feiyue (秦晓宇、吴飞跃)'s *The Verse of Us* (我的诗篇), which can also be discussed in combination with close-readings of the workers' poems in Chinese. Filmmakers such as Jia Zhangke (贾樟柯) and Lou Ye have also experimented with their filmmaking by integrating documentary elements into feature films, such as Jia's *24 City* (二十四城记) and Lou's *Suzhou River*. It will be fruitful for students to watch documentary films as well as films shot in documentary style or with documentary elements to discuss the social issues China faces today and to reflect on the boundary between documentary and fiction filmmaking, between reality and imagination.

Lastly, even though film has been recognized by many as a rich and useful resource for Chinese language courses at all levels, it still tends to be used more regularly and systematically in advanced-level classes. This chapter has discussed various teaching strategies for incorporating film texts into the teaching curriculum without resorting to a specific textbook, but it is hard to deny that for students whose language skills are still limited, a film-based textbook designed specifically to cater to their needs for more intensive language training will be extremely helpful. Even for higher-level courses, most of the available textbooks are organized based on individual films. New textbooks that can employ a comparative approach and take the transnational nature of Chinese-language cinema into consideration will surely meet the new demands of students in the age of globalization.

Bibliography

English References

- Alter, G. (2014) *Inter- and Transcultural Learning in the Context of Canadian Young Adult Fiction*. Zürich: LIT.
- Altman, R. (1989) *The Video Connection: Integrating Video into Language Teaching*. Boston: Houghton Mifflin.
- Blommaert, J. and Dong, J. (2010) 'Language and movement in space'. In Nikolas Coupland (ed.), *The Handbook of Language and Globalization*, 366–385. Chichester: Wiley-Blackwell.
- Broady, E. (1998) 'Old technology, new technology: Video makes a come-back'. In Ann-Karin Korsvold and Bernd Rüschoff (eds.), *New Technologies in Language Learning and Teaching*, 53–68. Strasbourg Cedex: Council of Europe Publishing.
- Bueno, K. A. (2009) 'Got film? Is it a readily accessible window to the target language and culture for your students?'. *Foreign Language Annals* 42(2): 318–339.
- Byram, M. (1989) *Cultural Studies in Foreign Language Education*. Clevedon, UK: Multilingual Matters.
- Byram, M. (1997) *Teaching and Assessing Intercultural Communicative Competence*. Clevedon, UK: Multilingual Matters.
- Canale, M. and Swain, M. (1980) 'Theoretical bases of communicative approaches to second language teaching and testing'. *Applied Linguistics* 1(1): 1–47.

- Chapple, L. and Curtis, A. (2000) 'Content-based instruction in Hong Kong: Student responses to film'. *System* 28(3): 419–433.
- Chen, L. (2011) 'Teaching Chinese film in an advanced language class'. *ASIANetwork Exchange* 18(2): 30–45.
- Chou, C. P., Wang, W. and Chiang, J. (eds.) (2008) *Readings in Contemporary Chinese Cinema: A Textbook of Advanced Modern Chinese*. Princeton: Princeton University Press.
- Danan, M. (1992) 'Reversed subtitling and dual coding theory: New directions for foreign language instruction'. *Language Learning* 42(4): 497–527.
- Gilmore, A. (2010) 'Catching words: Exploiting film discourse in the foreign language classroom'. In Freda Mishan and Angela Chambers (eds.), *Perspectives on Language Learning Materials Development*, 111–148. Oxford: Peter Lang.
- Hayati, A. and Mohmedi, F. (2011) 'The effect of films with and without subtitles on listening comprehension of EFL learners'. *British Journal of Educational Technology* 42(1): 181–192.
- Heller, M. (2010) 'Language as resource in the globalized new economy'. In Nikolas Coupland (ed.), *The Handbook of Language and Globalization*, 349–365. Chichester: Wiley-Blackwell.
- Herron, C. (1994) 'An investigation of the effectiveness of using an advanced organizer to introduce video in the foreign language classroom'. *The Modern Language Journal* 78(2): 190–198.
- Hertel, T. J. and Harrington, S. (2015) 'Promoting cultural and linguistic competence with documentary film in Spanish'. *Hispania* 98(3): 549–569.
- Hong, C. (2008) 'Species conflict as cultural and moral conflict: Reflections on Chinese readers' responses to *Wolf Totem*'. In Ricca Edmondson and Henrike Rau (eds.), *Environmental Argument and Cultural Difference: Locations, Fractures and Deliberations*, 287–303. Oxford: Peter Lang.
- Knee, A. (2001) 'Feature films in language teaching: Possibilities and practical problems'. In Gerd Bräuer (ed.), *Pedagogy of Language Learning in Higher Education: An Introduction*, 143–154. Westport: Ablex Publishing.
- Kramsch, C. (1993) *Context and Culture in Language Teaching*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Kramsch, C. (2014) 'Teaching foreign languages in an era of globalization: Introduction'. *The Modern Language Journal* 98(1): 296–311.
- Lim, S. H. (2011) 'Six Chinese cinemas in search of a historiography'. In Song Hwee Lim and Julian Ward (eds.), *The Chinese Cinema Book*, 35–46. London: British Film Institute.
- Liu, J. and Tao, H. (2016) 'Chinese language in a global context'. In Chan Sin-wai (ed.), *The Routledge Encyclopedia of The Chinese Language*, 119–136. New York: Routledge.
- Lo Bianco, J. (2011) 'Chinese: The gigantic up-and-comer'. In Linda Tsung and Ken Cruickshank (eds.), *Teaching and Learning Chinese in Global Contexts: Multimodality and Literacy in the New Media Age*, xiii–xxiv. London: Continuum.
- Luo, L. (2016) 'The Role of Film in Teaching the Chinese Language'. In Patrizia Comello Perry and Elda Buonanno Foley (eds.), *Fostering Culture Through Film: A Resource for Teaching Foreign Languages and Cultural Studies*, 45–59. Newcastle: Cambridge Scholars Publishing.
- Mishan, F. (2005) *Designing Authenticity into Language Learning Materials*. Bristol and Portland: Intellect.
- Mu, A. and Zhang, D. (2005) 'Teaching Chinese films with digitized modules in WebCT'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 40(3): 29–48.
- Risager, K. (2005) 'Foreword'. In Lies Seru et al. (eds.), *Foreign Language Teachers and Intercultural Competence: An International Investigation*, vii–ix. Clevedon, UK: Multilingual Matters.
- Stephens, J. L. (2001) 'Teaching Culture and Improving Language Skills through a Cinematic Lens: A course on Spanish film in the Undergraduate Spanish curriculum'. *ADFL Bulletin* 33(1): 22–25.
- Swaffer, J. and Vlaten A. (1997) 'A sequential model for video viewing in the foreign language curriculum'. *The Modern Language Journal* 81(2): 175–188.
- Thompson, J. B. (1995) *The Media and Modernity: A Social Theory of the Media*. Stanford: Stanford University Press.
- Zhu, Yanhong. (2018) 'The human and the beast: Humanity, animality, and cultural critique in contemporary Chinese cinema'. *Chinese Literature Today* 7(1): 107–117.

Chinese References

- Long, Xingjian 龙行健. (2007) 《狼图腾批判》 (*Criticism of Wolf Totem*). 上海(Shanghai): 学林出版社 (Xuelin Publishing).
- Wang, Jianning 王建宁 (2011) ‘文学原著与改编电影之间对读的教育意义’ (The educational significance in comparing literary works and their film adaptations), *文学教育 (Literature Education)* 9: 116–117.
- Wang, Xiaoling 王晓凌 (eds.) (2005) 《看电影学汉语》 (Learning Chinese Through Film). 西安 (Xi'an): 陕西师范大学出版社 (Shanxi Normal University Press).
- Xu, De Bao 许德宝 (2009) ‘利用现代技术进行语言教学和电影教学介绍几种DVD与 PowerPoint相结合的方法’ (Incorporating DVD into PowerPoint for language and film studies instruction). *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 44(1): 103–122.
- Zhang, Li 张莉 et al. (eds.) (2008–2010) 《中国电影欣赏》 (Watching the Movie and Learning Chinese) (3 book series). 北京 (Beijing): 北京语言大学出版社 (Beijing Language and Culture University Press).
- Zhang, Phyllis 张霓 (2013) ‘利用视频短片促进高级表达技能的获得’ (Using video to promote the acquisition of advanced proficiency). *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 4(2): 69–85.
- Zhao, Yunhui 赵昀晖 and Liu, Xiaoyu 刘晓雨 (eds.) (2010–2011) 《看电影，学汉语》 1&2 (Learning Chinese Through Movies). 北京 (Beijing): 世界图书出版公司 (World Books Publishing).

Literature in Chinese Language Teaching

Don Starr and Yunhan Hu

Introduction

Literature, particularly canonical literary texts, was traditionally the bedrock of second language acquisition (SLA): learning a language, especially a classical one, meant in-depth study of the great writings of the civilization concerned (Foster 2018). Chinese as a foreign language (CFL) instruction in both the UK and China has relied heavily on literary texts at different times. In the wider language world successive changes in SLA aims and fashions in the UK led to a retreat from the grammar translation method (GTM) that privileged the role of literature, resulting in its abandonment from the 1960s onwards and its replacement first by linguistics-based pattern drills and later by communicative language teaching (CLT), both stressing oral skills development. Similar changes took place in China in the late 1990s. The danger of abandoning real texts in favor of manipulated passages has been pointed out by Kelly: 'Language teaching drifted further from the languages taught by reason of the abandonment of authentic specimens of literature for synthetic passages that were built around rules, exceptions, and restricted vocabulary selected for its congruence with grammatical rules' (1969: 53). This was in the GTM context, but it applies equally to audio-visual and CLT textbooks.

After a period in the doldrums, literature started to make a comeback in language teaching in the West from the mid-1980s with developments in fields such as pragmatics, text-typology, and the application of classroom-based empirical research to pedagogy, and practitioners began to re-evaluate the potential benefits. They had always appreciated that, with its cultural and linguistic richness, literature has the potential to enable learners to move to a higher level, to understand how to communicate with greater emotional intelligence, and to go beyond basic information transfer. However, how to unlock this potential in actual teaching practice and how to justify this in theory was something they struggled with.

This study starts with some background on the traditional role of literature in CFL, looks at revisionist approaches to literature put forward from the 1980s onwards, then goes on to discuss the current state of using literature in CFL teaching at UK universities based on interviews, course descriptions, and examination papers. We argue that, with appropriate text selection and teaching methods, literature can both enhance the learning environment and pave the way for autonomous learning, especially for higher-level learners.

Historical Review

CFL pedagogy in the UK has broadly undergone the same trajectory as other languages, in the sense that it started with GTM, which by tradition relies heavily on literature. A pioneer was James Legge, the first professor of Chinese at Oxford¹ and also an excellent scholar of Latin and ancient Greek. In his inaugural lecture Legge set out the rationale for his new post of professor of Chinese at Oxford: the aim of Sinology was ‘the exploration and unfolding of the stores of Chinese literature’ (Girardot 2002: 176).

We can gain an idea of Legge’s conception of literature and his syllabus from his scholarship examinations. First, the exam was heavily classical text-based, on the 三字经 (*Three Character Classic*), 孟子 (*Mencius*), and the 五经 (*Five Classics*). Clearly Legge also followed the traditional Chinese conception that there is no boundary between literary, philosophical, and historical texts (文史不分家). This also accords with Legge’s chief qualification for the post, his translations of the Chinese classics.² Second, the exam questions consisted of translation in both directions (into classical Chinese), grammar explanations, and questions on philological, philosophical, and cultural knowledge (Wong 1996: 90–95). Based on his own Western classical education Legge spontaneously adopted the GTM approach to teach Chinese, and naturally this was classical Chinese, the language of the canonical texts.³

Over 80 years later, when David Hawkes gave his inaugural lecture at Oxford in 1961, the text range had been widened to include vernacular creative fiction, but the sentiments remained very similar. Hawkes said:

But we must always insist that the Honours School of Chinese should be based on the study of literature. To conclude, then, our task is not the training of interpreters, not the indulgence of exotic tastes, not the revelation of some arcane Truth which the Orient possesses but we do not, nor the mastery of a sterile Asiatic scholasticism, but literature. If universities are not to teach language by means of literature—by means of books which are intrinsically worth-while reading, I for one do not want to be a university teacher

(Hawkes 1961: 23).

This literary text orientation, focusing on reading but also including writing, endured in traditional UK university Chinese courses. At Durham, which began teaching Chinese in the 1950s, the 1962 final examinations papers for Chinese Studies included four 3-hour prescribed text papers, requiring students to complete 18 passages of translation: 17 of these were in classical Chinese. For the Grammar and Composition paper, the grammar examples were mostly from classical Chinese, and the composition consisted of translating passages from English to either *wenyan* or *baihua*, whichever the student preferred. There were no oral or aural exams. Learning Chinese then meant learning the literature by heart to reproduce it in English, answer questions on its content and analyze its grammar. Classical Chinese still remains important in more traditional courses.⁴

Nevertheless, as Legge recognized, Chinese was not just a classical language: it was a living, spoken language. He and the other nineteenth-century protestant missionaries were assiduous in learning to speak Chinese fluently: from Robert Morrison (in China 1807–1834) onwards missionaries often acted as interpreters. While traditional university degree courses concentrated on text-based cultural studies, spoken Chinese language training was carried out in more vocational environments. SOAS was set up as the School of Oriental Studies in 1917 to train colonial administrators, diplomats, and business people to speak the relevant languages (Brown 2016). Lao She was recruited as Lecturer in Chinese in 1924 to teach spoken Chinese to

business people, missionaries, and diplomats due to be sent to China. He was a pioneer in the use of recordings, and 'his was the voice on the gramophone records issued as part of the 1930 Linguaphone Chinese course' (Bickers 1994: 32). It was only in the 1950s and 1960s that SOAS seriously developed its undergraduate degree programs, and these followed closely the Oxford and Cambridge models, with compulsory classical Chinese and heavily oriented towards literary text reading.

UK university Chinese departments from the late 1960s saw the need to develop a more communicative approach as government, students themselves, and employers demanded this; nevertheless, for old established CFL institutions, this was added to, rather than replacing, the existing GTM literature-based teaching. Universities hired native-speaker professional language teachers from Taiwan, installed language laboratories, and used Yale's DeFrancis for Chinese (and Jorden for Japanese) in an attempt to inculcate better language production skills rather than the reception skills of GTM. This pattern has proved very enduring in traditional Chinese studies courses and is still the basic format. Such universities have specialists in Chinese literature, typically non-native speakers of Chinese, who teach literary texts in English using some version of GTM. Their native speaker colleagues teach the parallel comprehensive language course using textbooks for elementary students and topic-based newspaper-style materials for intermediate and advanced students employing a CLT approach. Literature thus remains a core component in Chinese language learning in these courses. However, more recent entrants have tended to adopt a language center based approach for both specialist and non-specialist students; the use of literature does not generally feature in such Chinese language teaching.

Meanwhile in China, with CFL taken over by the new Chinese government, the direct method approach that had existed in China for around two decades before 1949 gave way in the 1950s to an ideologically imposed pedagogy that reflected Stalin's dictum that 'grammatical system and basic word stock constitute the foundation of language, the essence of its specific character' in his 'Marxism and Problems of Linguistics' (Stalin 1950: 9). The 汉语教科书 (Chinese coursebook), compiled by 朱德熙 (Zhu Dexi) in Bulgaria in 1954 and the first Chinese teaching textbook produced after 1949, was created in accordance with these principles to offer a comprehensive presentation of grammar and vocabulary (Shen Shuying 2012).

The highpoint of the use of literature in CFL in China came in the 1980s, the decade following the Cultural Revolution, a time that witnessed the rejuvenation of CFL in China. This could be seen in the rapid growth in the number of foreign students, compared to the mere 408 reached by 1977 (Zhu 2010: 34), as well as the establishment of the first four-year specialist undergraduate program in modern Chinese at the Beijing Languages Institute in 1978, then the only specialist course in modern Chinese. As Gao, Li and Guo (1993) observed, literary texts were central to the 综合语言技能课 (comprehensive language skills classes), a compulsory course in each year of the second language (CFL) department. At the initial stage, this course was entitled 文章选读课 (selected text reading), and used 文选 (*Selected Texts*) (1979–1987), a set of six textbooks containing largely literary texts in books 1 & 2, and exclusively literary texts from book 3 onwards, ranging from folk stories to novels, essays, plays, etc. The typical format was a passage from a literary work, a vocabulary list, word usage examples and exercises; at higher levels, an introduction to the author and some background information were provided. 文选 was also adopted by CFL classrooms in other universities, creating a general pattern in China of teaching Chinese through literature. In its revised version, renamed 中/高级汉语教程 (*Intermediate/Advanced Chinese Course*) (Chen Zhuo 1987; Jiang De 1990), the linguistic aspects of literary texts were further explored, including word-formation and word-expansion, grammar notes, supplementary texts and exercises at intermediate level, and higher-level cultural knowledge at

the advanced level. This revision, commented Lü Bisong, marked a big leap forward in ‘highlighting the special characteristics of language teaching, strengthening the training of language skills and stressing the importance of cultural education’⁵ (1990: 102). Having flourished since the 1920s, modern vernacular literature finally had a role in CFL in China. However, this was not the result of a change in pedagogical thinking, rather it was just an historical accident. With almost no relevant expertise to draw on when it came to delivering CFL at an advanced level, after the suspension of all CFL during the Cultural Revolution, textbook compilers were obliged to fall back on knowledge from elementary level CFL and from Chinese and FLA textbooks for native Chinese speakers (Gao, Li and Guo 1993). As Western SLA theories were introduced into the CFL world in China, especially the dominant CLT approach, the attitude towards literary texts changed.

Reflections on Using Literature in Teaching a Second Language

Reflections on CFL

In China, even at the highpoint of literature in CFL, doubts about its validity were raised, as can be seen in a dozen articles directly on this issue in *语言教学与研究* (*Language Teaching and Linguistic Studies*) from Issue 4 1980 onwards for the next decade. Early discussions tended to accept the validity of existing literary text choices but emphasized the need to exploit the communicative value in them. Among positive voices is Sandra McKay’s 1982 article, which was translated and published in *语言教学与研究* (1984.1). The tone gradually became more critical with pedagogical criticism led by Lü Bisong. As a founder of CFL in China, Lü had, since the early 1970s, been a fervent supporter of the communicative approach, which, in his words, was the latest development in language pedagogy in the EU countries (1990: 58; arguably, it was not even new in China, and was actually almost as old as GTM in Europe: see Fotos 2005). Agreeing with Li Yimin 李忆民 (Lü 1990: 101), Lü characterized the exercises in the BLI textbooks as comprehension, imitation, and memory exercises with little communicative element, and felt that the communicative value of the texts was not being exploited. Lü was not opposed to using literature per se, but insisted it should not conflict with a CLT approach. Elsewhere, Lü (1993) opined that literary texts should only increase from a small proportion at intermediate level to a slightly higher one at advanced level. Textbooks should primarily rely on materials synthesized according to their grammar progression framework; the proper place for literary texts was in the literature class, which should cover both language analysis and culture study.

This debate gathered momentum with a conference in June 1990 on intermediate and advanced level CFL⁶ and a major report published in 1993. The latter *文学作品作为中高级阶段综合语言技能课的主要材料所存在的问题：调查与分析* (Issues in using literary works as the primary material for teaching intermediate and advanced level comprehensive language skills: investigation and analysis) (Gao, Li and Guo 1993) reported on a survey carried out in 1990–1992 into how Chinese was taught to foreigners. This report begins by tracing how literature came to dominate CFL textbooks in the late 1980s, then reviews the research that had questioned the validity of using literature, primarily at intermediate and advanced levels, by analyzing the arguments from five perspectives. These included: the nature of the comprehensive Chinese module, the innate drawbacks to using literary texts for comprehensive skills training, students’ needs, and the way the approach detracted from teachers’ leading role in language teaching. The evidence part of this report features questionnaire-based quantitative data from over a thousand students and qualitative data from interviews. Only two out of 25 interviewees rated literature

as useful to their Chinese learning. Statistically, students' understanding of literature was poor: only 1.8 percent claimed to be able to understand literature completely, 31.7 percent to a large extent, 30.0 percent half, and the rest either vaguely or not at all. The ability to apply literary language to writing was even poorer: 26.1 percent could partially express themselves in literary language, and 41.2 percent found it very difficult.

As the BLI literature-based textbooks faded into history, to be replaced by synthetic works, more balanced attitudes began to be expressed. For example, while acknowledging that literary texts might be too difficult in language, content, and cultural background, Wu Chengnian (2004) argues that using other text types might not avoid those problems, and that using synthetic materials could affect students' ability to understand authentic texts. He argues that the literary texts should be short and not too difficult, that fiction and drama are better than poetry and essays for exciting student interest, and that the texts should be authentic and unedited. The teacher should show how language and content have been integrated, highlighting the expressive skills of the writing, should vary the level of difficulty of questions, drill the students on the language issues, and get the students to interpret the meaning from the context (173–174).

One of the main Western journals on CLT to English L1 students, typically publishing practitioner-based, empirical research, is the American *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association*, published since 1966.⁷ In a state of the field article in 2012 celebrating the 50th anniversary of the Association's launch, Chuanren Ke outlined the empirical research carried out in the CFL field since the 1980s, primarily in the USA. Reading is the first and longest section in this article, covering the first 16 pages. We might expect literature to feature prominently in this, but it does not: almost all of this section is devoted to character-learning skills (Ke's own specialism). In the last two pages Ke considers issues of some relevance to studying literature: these include the use of modified literary texts for intermediate learners who would struggle with the original versions, and the provision of online extensive reading graded texts. Ke makes the point that textual modifications should be based on empirical data on what works, rather than, as at present, 'text-book compilers' arbitrary beliefs on places where students are likely to encounter problems' (Ke 2012: 58). He introduces two graded reading schemes: the University of Southern California's *Progressive Readings* and the University of Iowa's *The Chinese Reading World*. The former had two features of note: multiple versions of the same text at different levels of syntactical and lexical difficulty, and characters arranged in word groups. It was described by one of the participants in an article that appeared in 1998 (Li 1998) but the material can no longer be accessed. The University of Iowa's *The Chinese Reading World* database was created from 2005–2008 and is still freely accessible in its HTML and audio versions. It consists of 900 reading items: 10 items on each of 30 subject areas, divided into three levels of difficulty. The reading passages are from around 150 characters (elementary) to around 1,000 characters (advanced) and include, in the HTML version, pre- and post-reading vocabulary tests and multiple-choice comprehension. These are marked instantly on line. Most of these texts are on daily life, social and political issues but the last three advanced level topics are contemporary, modern, and premodern Chinese literature and writers. However, they are short human-interest type essays on literary figures and related phenomena rather than examples of actual creative writing.

There has been a recent flurry of edited volumes on CFL but most concentrate on linguistic issues and none deals with the question of using literature to teach language. These include: Wen and Jiang's (2019) *Studies on Learning and Teaching Chinese as a Second Language*, Kecskes and Sun's (2017) *Key Issues in Chinese as a Second Language Research*, Han's (2014) *Studies in Second Language Acquisition of Chinese*, Kecskes' (2013) *Research Trends in Chinese as a Second Language*, and Jiang's (2014) *Advances in Chinese as a Second Language*.

Examples of Using Literature in Language Teaching

The structuralist pattern drill approach of the audio-visual method was clearly inimical to literature-based teaching, but its replacement, CLT, offered a less hostile environment. CLT as an approach, rather than a theory, is more pragmatic; the texts supporting its oral-based interactions are usually topic-based newspaper readings, but they do not have to be: literary texts can equally be the stimulus for those interactions.

Although there have been some empirical studies on the value of literature in language learning, this area does not lend itself as easily to the kind of 'scientific' data-based studies that characterize linguistic research into SLA. Much of the research is both based on EFL and 'premised on the belief that data-based research is the most valid means of developing and applying a language teaching rationale' (Shanahan 1997: 166). We find that language and literature teachers believe in the validity of literature-based teaching, but struggle to provide hard data to back up their intuitive beliefs.

One pedagogy scholar who has inspired experiments using literature is Louise Rosenblatt. Rosenblatt's original work, *Literature as Exploration*, was originally published in 1938 and 80 years later is still in print. A disciple of Dewey's ideas, Rosenblatt saw reading as a 'transactional' process rather than an 'interactional' process (Rosenblatt 1988: 2). She means by this that the relationship between, in this case, reader and text is a reciprocal one in which each changes the other. Language is not an autonomous dyadic system composed of 'signifier and signified' as laid down by de Saussure, but a triadic system as envisaged by the American semiotician Charles Peirce, who insisted that not only the object and its sign were required but also the interpreter. In Rosenblatt's case, this is the reader. The processes of reading and writing are very similar: 'the writer "composes" a presumably meaningful text; the reader "composes", hence "writes", an interpreted meaning . . . reading is an integral part of the writing process' (ibid.).

Rosenblatt's transactional concept emphasizes the active involvement and the creativity of the reader in the production of meaning. It is a small step from this to proposing that the degree of creativity enjoyed by the reader varies with the text type. Rosenblatt suggests that all texts are located on a spectrum of reader-based interpretability from 'the predominantly aesthetic' to 'the predominantly efferent'. Here 'efferent' refers to informational texts in which the reader gleans new information which he or she retains, in contrast to 'aesthetic texts' which speak to the private language of the reader, giving rise to personal interpretations that will vary markedly from one reader to another. Literature of course falls into this latter category, evoking emotional interpretations in the same way as music and art. This does not mean that readers have carte blanche to interpret texts any way they want and that all interpretations are equally valid. Rosenblatt still sees a clear role for teachers in using their experience and wider knowledge of the subject area to guide students' understanding and interpretation, and counsels against 'irresponsible, irrelevant, impressionistic, free associations; discussion of topics tangential to the text are simply evidence of inadequate communication' (Rosenblatt 1960: 309).

Rosenblatt's conceptual approach offers teachers who instinctively feel the use of literature is beneficial to their students' language learning more tangible evidence of how this process may work. This is taken up in a piece of empirical research on the use of literary texts by Nanzan Tutaş (Tutaş 2006 in Paran 2006) in which she divides 36 Turkish L1 university learners of English into two groups, an efferent group and an aesthetic group, taught by two different teachers, one of whom naturally opted for a more efferent teaching approach and the other a more aesthetic approach. The efferent teacher used reading aloud, rephrasing, and translation into Turkish, with questions tending to focus on factual features of the text. By contrast, the aesthetic teacher

used group work and discussions, and asked questions focusing on students' personal reactions to features of the text, how they would behave if they were in a character's shoes, or how incidents in the story resonated with their own experiences. The 14-week experiment produced written data in the form of reading logs and essays, and qualitative post-experiment interview data. Tutaş' conclusions are that the pre-experiment essays of the two groups were very similar, with both producing 60–65 percent efferent responses, and 35–40 percent aesthetic responses. By the time of the post-experiment essay, there was a marked difference between the two groups with the aesthetic group producing approximately 75 percent aesthetic responses and the efferent group about 75 percent efferent responses. The interview data showed that the majority of the aesthetic group liked the teaching and enjoyed being able to discuss their own opinions and hear their peers' reactions (although half the efferent group was also happy with the teaching method). They emphasized the improvement in thinking skills and depth of reading that resulted from this process (Tutaş 2006: 139). The key message was that the teaching mode significantly affects student behavior. Sandra McKay also offers a very clear example of how Rosenblatt's concept may be applied to a short classroom text by giving examples of efferent and aesthetic questions on a text (1982: 533–536).

A different expressivist approach to using literature was pioneered by Bassnett and Grundy's *Language Through Literature* (1993). One of the shibboleths they are keen to demolish is the idea that literature is only suitable for advanced students. Although there are only a few exercises suitable for beginners in the main chapters, there is a specific chapter with nine beginner exercises that are suitable for use within a few lessons of beginning, even if not the very first lesson. In this case CLT is not being abandoned: it is being extended and its core aims are still being respected. In their words: 'Our feeling [is] that there is a need for a methodology change in the teaching of "foreign" literature, to bring it more into line with the learner-centred collaborative approach of the communicative method' (1993: 1). Under the premise that 'literature should be part of a complete language learning experience' they offer 101 different classroom exercises inspired by literary texts, graded according to learner proficiency, with clear instructions on how to conduct the exercise and how long it should take. Many of the texts used are poems or parts of short stories. They are used as a way of generating creative writing on the part of students through collaborative activities in pairs or small groups that report back orally to the whole class as part of the exercise. This approach rejects the view that "creative writing" is something done by others, and that language learner writing should be something more akin to analysis and paraphrase. We believe writing should be taught as basic literary practice' (Bassnett and Grundy 1993: 1). The result is something very different to traditional literary text teaching: the texts are used, to a greater or lesser degree, as jumping off points for creative writing. This contrasts markedly with Rosenblatt's approach.

Theorizing the Case for Literature in Language Teaching

Paran (2006: 1) notes the marginalization of literature in language teaching that took place in the 1970s following the adoption of communicative language teaching methods. This culminated in literature being effectively 'purged from the programme' (ibid. quoting Widdowson 1985) by the 1980s. However, a rear-guard action resulted in a revival of interest in the mid-1980s exemplified by Brumfit and Carter's *Literature and Language Teaching* (1986). This was followed by a number of works pointing out the unidimensional nature of CLT's functional situational paradigm (Bassnet and Grundy 1993; Kramsch and Kramsch 2000; Paran 2006; Carter 2007). In concentrating on everyday oral communication, such an approach was omitting from the experience of foreign-language learners the more richly textured language of creative texts. Creative writing was much more grounded in the specific cultural ambience of the target language,

allowing learners to access language cues at a deeper level. This is important in any language context, but especially so in the high power distance cultures of East Asia, where status and language are much more closely and formally interlinked. This was the time when university language departments renamed themselves ‘languages and cultures’ to emphasize that they did not just teach survival language, but produced graduates able to engage at a deeper cultural level with native speakers. This was not confined to the UK: in China Beijing Languages Institute renamed itself Beijing Language and Culture University when it gained university status.

This cultural dimension involves the issue of how to move forward from the denotative language of elementary and lower intermediate learners to what should be the connotative capability of advanced learners. This form of language is the key to interpersonal communication, embracing phatic, operative, and expressive text types,⁸ utterances that are more significant than informative texts in the daily lives of most people, as witnessed in the meteoric rise of social media. Even within the European language sphere this cultural understanding is important in language learning, but arguably is much more so when seeking to traverse the much greater cultural gulf between Chinese and English.

The concept of ‘pragmatic competence’ is a further theoretical justification proposed for using literature in language teaching (Abbas 2012). In Barron’s definition: ‘pragmatic competence . . . is understood as the knowledge of the linguistic resources available in a given language for realizing particular illocutions, knowledge of the sequential aspects of speech acts and finally, knowledge of the appropriate contextual use of the particular languages’ linguistic resources’ (Barron 2003:10). Since CFL teaching concerns non-heritage learners’ comprehension, production, and acquisition of Chinese, it falls conceptually within cross-cultural pragmatics, a domain of pragmatics, also referred to as Interlanguage Pragmatics (ILP), that Kasper and Schmidt (1996) profile within SLA. It is widely agreed by most SLA researchers, especially those concerned with adult learners (Kasper and Rose 2002; Callies 2009; Jiang 2009) that learners’ L2 competence is attested by their pragmatic competence, although a sound knowledge of grammar is necessary for most early learners. Learners have to ‘tease out’ the pragmalinguistic functions of their now available L2 grammar structures (Kasper and Rose 2002: 308), and to aid this learning style, a pedagogy that provides explicit instructions and abundant practice opportunities proves to be most helpful (ibid. 273). Literature can contribute to this: it characteristically contains expressions at variance with everyday language and a rhetoric that overlays meaning, obliging the reader to construct hypotheses using their pre-knowledge of Chinese in order to derive conclusions that resonate with the context. Such training is what synthetic texts are not good at providing because meaning is more fixed to their surface structures. An autonomous learner of Chinese, if that is our teaching aim, has, as an information recipient, to become familiarized with the discourse of Chinese and generate meaning out of uncertainty, and as an information provider, to express effectively more abstract ideas, especially in written form.

The 字本位 ‘character based’ concept is another supporting argument. For advanced learners of Chinese, who have accumulated around 2,500 characters, the ability to generate understanding of new words from old characters is a key element of their autonomous learning. Literature is characterized by such creative usage, enriching native readers’ understanding by enhancing their character conceptualization; it can do the same for foreign learners of Chinese.

The Current Position of Literature and Language Teaching at UK Universities: A Survey⁹

Based on our limited research sample, the university teachers canvassed all supported the principle of including literature in Chinese language courses. They gave linguistic reasons, cultural

reasons, and linguocultural reasons for doing this. The reasons given for not including literature in a Chinese language course were that: it was too difficult for the level of the students, it did not fit the ethos of the course, or the students would not want it. In practice the type of course was the major determinant, whether it was a non-specialist option or part of a traditional specialist program.

The respondents were very clear about the difference between original literary texts and synthetic or information texts. Most UK universities with specialized courses in Chinese use only authentic texts in the final one or two (junior and senior) years of their courses, meaning they do not use textbooks. Institution-Wide Language Program (IWLP)¹⁰ courses by contrast, even at the highest levels, tend to be textbook based, and typically use synthetic texts. McKay points out the drawbacks of using such texts: homogenization, dilution of message, reduction in cohesion, and lower readability (1982: 531). The preferred solution of respondents was to choose authentic texts with care, ensuring they meet both language and content criteria.

In using literature for teaching the basic choices of approach are: intercultural, communicative or translation, or a combination of these. For most respondents their aim is to prioritize communication whilst maximizing intercultural understanding. Most used translation to an extent, and developments in translation theory over the last few decades offer the chance to introduce students to a more consciously analytical and academic translation discipline, but there were few signs of this happening.

There is a big divide on the literature issue between IWLP courses and traditional specialist language courses. We came across only rare examples of IWLP teaching using authentic literary texts, and that was at the highest level offered, equivalent to upper intermediate. Students on IWLP courses tend to be concentrated at lower levels, from beginner to intermediate; textbooks are the norm at all levels and the language content is directed towards practical communication and topic-based newspaper-type language. A commonly used elementary to intermediate textbook is *新实用汉语课本* (*New Practical Chinese Readers*), which uses dialogues for the main texts but has supplementary reading texts 阅读 that include synthetic versions of traditional stories. A typical advanced textbook is *The Routledge Advanced Chinese Multimedia Course: Crossing Cultural Boundaries* (Lee et al. 2014), which relies on mainly synthetic newspaper-style topic-based texts. The emphasis of IWLP courses tends to be on oral communication and ensuring comparability across languages; these are normally delivered by native-speaker teachers; universities reliant on these courses for their Chinese programs rarely have specialists in Chinese literature. IWLP course provision in Chinese has burgeoned in the last few years. The 62 universities responding to the 2016–2017 UCML-AULC survey reported a mean average of 1,000 enrollments, with Chinese second equal in terms of provision (almost every university offered it) though sixth in terms of enrollment (UCML 2017). This rate of growth in IWLP provision and enrollments has far outstripped the growth of student numbers on specialist Chinese courses.

Traditional courses can be characterized as integrated in nature with a core of compulsory language complemented by ‘content’ modules delivered by staff in a single department. The core language provision may still be very similar to IWLP provision, using a CLT approach, but this is often supplemented by GTM text reading classes. Since 1979, these courses have included a compulsory period of study in China, normally a year. These conditions mean that it is realistic to expect students to be able to read original texts intended for native speakers in the final one or two years of their course, and, as noted, many of these course providers, as a matter of principle, only use ‘authentic’ texts for higher intermediate and advanced students. Traditional specialist courses in Chinese typically have both native speakers of Chinese delivering core language teaching, and lecturers with research interests in literature delivering Chinese literature

courses. These are often non-native speakers of Chinese who teach literature survey and criticism courses through the medium of English, and read literary texts with students following a GTM approach. In the final examinations, students translate seen and unseen texts from Chinese into English, and write essays in English on literary topics. They also write a dissertation, which may be on literature, based on reading primary material in Chinese and secondary material in Chinese and English.

Four UK Examples of Literary Text Usage on Specialist Chinese Language Programs

Case A is a university offering a traditional course format. The comprehensive Chinese language course is delivered by a team of native speakers along CLT lines. A China-published textbook is used to cover all the essential grammar in the first year and the students spend the second year on a tailored course in China. In the third and fourth years the core Chinese language course uses newspaper-type authentic texts to prepare students for a prose and composition paper (writing in Chinese), an unseen translation paper (into English), plus an oral examination. Literature is taught by a native English speaker, with a research focus on literature, through optional special subject papers using a GTM approach for text reading; there are two literature papers consisting of a series of nine prepared texts (by Lu Xun, Lao She, Ding Ling, etc.) for translation into English plus essays on the texts to be answered in English.

Case B. This has been put on experimentally for two years as part of a core language course for second-year students. The teacher decided that since there is no literature in the textbook and she felt students should be exposed to some she would devote 15 minutes of the newspaper reading hour to reading Tang and Song poems. The poems are chosen on the basis they are famous texts frequently cited, with examples such as Li Yu's 李煜 *To the Tune of Beauty Yu* 虞美人 and Liu Yuxi's 刘禹锡 *Song of Bamboo Twigs* 竹枝词. These are presented to the students in Chinese character, pinyin, and English versions, and the students are asked make their own translations and to write short compositions in Chinese on the poems, but there is no formal assessment of this element. She reports that it appears to work well.

Case C. Although this is a specialized Chinese program it is located in a Social Science faculty with no literature specialism. The following refers to a final year advanced core language module teaching all four skills through a common set of authentic texts and divided into three week blocks by text function. For the literature block there are three literary texts (by Lu Xun, Chi Li and Wang Shuo). The teaching philosophy behind the module is a functionalist form of CLT: literary texts are used to exemplify the expressive function, in which an author describes her or his feelings in a very individualistic way. Other texts are informational (newspapers) or argumentative (academic). The reading element of this module, like the other three elements, consciously rejects a vocabulary and grammar teaching approach in favor of a skills-based approach, i.e. it concentrates on developing different reading skills for different functions, for example: scanning 浏览, skimming 略读, and close reading 精读.

Case D. This is a 3rd/4th year module for a specialized Chinese program with 2 hours per week of instruction for 22 weeks. It is described by the teacher, a Chinese native speaker, as aiming to combine language and literature teaching, and uses authentic texts and a CLT approach. The module includes group work, task-based work, translation, comprehension and commentary, with the assessment, both task-based and examination, written half in English and half in Chinese. The reason given for choosing literary texts was that it is part of Chinese tradition to include literary texts at intermediate and advanced levels, and that literary texts are well-controlled in language and have a clear writing purpose, so are more interesting for students to

study. The choice of texts is flexible and changes from year to year but currently includes Lu Xun's 'An Incident' 一件小事 and Bi Shumin's 'An Appointment with Death' 预约死亡 among a number of texts. The choice of text is seen as very important: for example, the Bi Shumin text deals with a deep personal dilemma that students can empathize with, and this generates interest and participation. The aim is to balance reading interest with language development and the criteria for choosing the texts are that the writing is good, the language level is appropriate, and that the intellectual content is strong. The teacher's evaluation is that the course is, measured in terms of participation and attendance levels, much more successful in generating student interest than the previous information-text, topic-based teaching.

Conclusion

'It's not the words, it's the usage', was the comment of one interviewee describing the exasperation of an advanced Chinese learner who, when assigned a piece of literature to read as a change from the usual diet of newspaper articles, had told him 'I checked every single word on that page, and I still have no idea what they are talking about'. As the interviewee explained to us because newspaper texts have such a high degree of normalization good students can become quite proficient in reading them, and overestimate their Chinese ability. A literary text provides a painful reality check to the students.

Newspaper readings and textbooks with synthesized texts are the manifestations of an instrumentalist approach that prioritizes standardized usage in language instruction, and a topic-based communicative approach that prioritizes output skills using normalized language. Both learners and teachers have to bear in mind that the ultimate criterion for judging the success of the learning process is not the exam or the carefully crafted learning outcomes document. It is the ability of the graduate to understand real-world language produced by native speakers, language in all its heterogeneity, containing dialect, idiolect, idiosyncratic expressions and creative usage of language, and the nuances of register, among other randomly occurring features. The traditional GMT-based literary model has its good points, developing linguistic precision for example, but should be applied strategically, and emphasis should be on learning from successful practice and exploring the theoretical thinking behind it to establish a more authentic Chinese language environment, to sensitize the students to the different layers of meaning, and to enable them to develop their autonomous learning skills.

While standardizing reading material can give a sense of security to teachers and administrators, and is widely appreciated at many educational institutions, the voices of more perceptive teachers should be listened to. In a seminal articulation of the issues faced by language and literature departments, Sylvie Henning (1993) complained that as they had increasingly become sub-contractors providing language minors for business and other social science programs, they had been scapegoated for the failure of business programs to produce students with the cultural skills needed to compete in global markets. The blame for this was laid at the door of literature. She rejected this instrumentalist view: language teachers were the experts and should be allowed to set the syllabus. In our view it should certainly include some element of literature, especially at intermediate and advanced levels.

Notes

- 1 The first appointee to the new chair of Chinese at Oxford in 1876; Samuel Kidd, Legge's first teacher of Chinese, occupied the first British university post in Chinese at University College London from 1837, but the post lapsed on his death in 1843 (Barrett 1989: 69).

- 2 The first volume, the *Analects*, *Great Learning* and *Doctrine of the Mean* was published in Hong Kong in 1861.
- 3 Classical Chinese is the written language dating from the fifth century BCE to the second century CE, although still used by educated Chinese until the early twentieth century.
- 4 It was still possible to take a full degree in classical Chinese at SOAS in the 1960s, and even now classical Chinese is still a significant and compulsory component of Chinese courses at Cambridge, Oxford, and SOAS.
- 5 突出语言教学的特点，加强语言技能的训练和重视文化的教学。
- 6 Papers attacked the use of modern canonical literary texts.
- 7 Renamed *Chinese as a Second Language* from 2016 when publication was taken over by a commercial press.
- 8 These concepts were widely articulated in translation studies by scholars such as Reiss (1971) and Newmark (1988).
- 9 This account is based on interviews with, and questionnaire responses from, 10 teachers from seven UK university providers of specialist courses in Chinese, two from Canada and one from China. In addition it relies on website data and on personal observations and experience. We should like to record our great gratitude to colleagues at other universities for generously agreeing to be interviewed for this study.
- 10 Institution-Wide Language Provision, i.e. university language centers as opposed to specialized language departments.

References

English References

- Abbas, N. (2012) 'Pragmatics and the teaching of literature'. *International Journal of Social Sciences and Education* 2(1): 333–346.
- Barron, A. (2003) *Acquisition in Interlanguage Pragmatics: Learning How to Do Things with Words in a Study Abroad Context*. Amsterdam and Philadelphia: John Benjamins Publishing.
- Barrett, T. H. (1989) *Singular Listlessness: A Short History of Chinese Books and British Scholars*. London: Wellsweep Press.
- Bassnett, S. and Grundy, P. (1993) *Language through Literature: Creative Language Teaching Through Literature*. Harlow: Longman.
- Bickers, Robert A. (1994) 'New light on Lao She, London, and the London Missionary Society, 1921–1929'. *Modern Chinese Literature* 8(1/2): 21–39.
- Brown, Ian. (2016) *The School of Oriental and African Studies: Imperial Training and the Expansion of Learning*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Brumfit, C. and Carter, R. (eds.) (1986) *Literature and Language Teaching*. Oxon: Oxford University Press.
- Callies, M. (2009) *Information Highlighting in Advanced Learner English: The Syntax-Pragmatics Interface in Second Language Acquisition*. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Carter, R. (2007) 'Literature and language teaching 1986–2006: A review'. *International Journal of Applied Linguistics* 17(1): 3–13.
- Foster, F. (2018) 'Attitudes to ancient Greek in three schools: A case study'. *The Language Learning Journal* 46(2): 159–172.
- Fotos, S. (2005) 'Traditional and grammar translation methods for second language teaching'. In Eli Hinkel (ed.), *Handbook of Research in Second Language Teaching and Learning*, 653–670. New York and London: Routledge.
- Girardot, N. J. (2002) *The Victorian Translation of China: James Legge's Oriental Pilgrimage*. Berkeley, Los Angeles and London: University of California Press.
- Han, Z. (ed.) (2014) *Studies in Second Language Acquisition of Chinese*. Bristol, Buffalo and Toronto: Multilingual Matters.
- Hawkes, David. (1961) 'Chinese: Classical, modern and humane—an inaugural lecture delivered before the University of Oxford on 25 May 1961'. In John Minford and Siu-kit Wong (eds.), Reprinted in David Hawkes. (1989) *Classical Modern and Humane: Essays in Chinese Literature*, 3–23. Hong Kong: The Chinese University Press.

- Henning, S. D. (1993) 'The integration of language, literature, and culture: Goals and curricular design'. *Profession* 93: 22–26.
- Jiang, N. (ed.) (2014) *Advances in Chinese as a Second Language: Acquisition and Processing*. Newcastle: Cambridge Scholars.
- Jiang, Wenying. (2009) *Acquisition of Word Order in Chinese as a Foreign Language*. Berlin: De Gruyter Mouton.
- Kasper, G. and Rose, K. (2002). *Pragmatic Development in a Second Language*. Hoboken, NJ: Wiley Blackwell.
- Kasper, G. and Schmidt, R. (1996) 'Developmental issues in interlanguage pragmatics'. *Studies in Second Language Acquisition* 18: 149–169.
- Ke, Chuanren. (2012) 'Research in second language acquisition of Chinese: Where we are, where we are going'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 47(3): 43–113.
- Kecskes, I. (ed.) (2013) *Research Trends in Chinese as a Second Language*. Berlin: De Gruyter Mouton.
- Kecskes, I. and Sun, C. (eds.) (2017) *Key Issues in Chinese as a Second Language Research*. London: Routledge.
- Kelly, L. G. (1969) *25 Centuries of Language Teaching 500BC–1969*. Rowley, MA: Newbury House.
- Kramsch, C. and Kramsch, O. (2000) 'The avatars of literature in language study'. *The Modern Language Journal* 84(iv): 554–573.
- Lee, K. C., Liang, H.-h., Jiao, L. and Wheatley, J. K. (2014) *The Routledge Advanced Chinese Multimedia Course: Crossing Cultural Boundaries*, 2nd ed. London and New York: Routledge.
- Li, Yen-hui. (1998) 'Steps towards reading proficiency: Progressive readings'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 33(3): 79–96.
- McKay, S. (1982) 'Literature in the ESL classroom'. *TESOL Quarterly* 16(4): 529–536.
- Newmark, P. (1988) *A Textbook of Translation*. Hemel Hempstead: Prentice-Hall.
- Paran, A. (ed.) (2006) *Literature in Language Teaching and Learning*. Alexandria, VA: Teachers of English to Speakers of Other Languages, Inc.
- Reiss, K. (1971) *Möglichkeiten und Grenzen der Übersetzungskritik: Kategorien und Kriterien für eine sachgerechte Beurteilung von Übersetzungen*. Munich: Hueber.
- Rosenblatt, L. M. (1960) 'Literature: The reader's role'. *The English Journal* 39(5): 304–310+315–316.
- Rosenblatt, L. M. (1988) *Writing and Reading: The Transactional Theory*. Berkeley: Center for the Study of Reading Technical Report No. 416.
- Shanahan, D. (1997) 'Articulating the relationship between language, literature and culture: Toward a new agenda for foreign language teaching and research'. *The Modern Language Journal* 81(ii): 164–174.
- Stalin, J.V. (1950) 'Marxism and problems of linguistics'. Retrieved on May 31, 2018 from www.academia.edu/4266748/MARXISM_AND_PROBLEMS_OF_LINGUISTICS_by_Joseph_Stalin.
- Tutaş, N. (2006) 'Theory into practice: Teaching and responding to literature aesthetically'. In Amos Paran (ed.), *Literature in Language Teaching and Learning*, 133–146. Alexandria, VA: Teachers of English to Speakers of Other Languages, Inc.
- UCML. (2017) *UCML-AULC survey of Institution-Wide Language Provision in Universities in the UK (2016–2017)*. Retrieved from www.ucml.ac.uk/languages-education/he-languages.
- Wen, X. and Jiang, X. (eds.) (2019) *Studies on Learning and Teaching Chinese as a Second Language*. London and New York: Routledge.
- Widdowson, H. G. (1985) 'The teaching, learning and study of literature'. In Randolph Quirk and H.G. Widdowson (eds.), *English in the World: Teaching and Learning the Language and Literatures*, 180–194. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Wong, Man Kong. (1996) *James Legge: A Pioneer at Crossroads of East and West*. Hong Kong: Hong Kong Educational Publishing Co.
- Zhu, Zhiping. (2010) 'A historical perspective of teaching Chinese as a second language'. In Chen Jianguo, Chuang Wang and Jinfa Cai (eds.), *Teaching and Learning Chinese: Issues and Perspectives*, 33–72. Charlotte, NC: Information Age Publishing.

Chinese References

- Chen, Zhuo et al. 陈灼 (1987) 中级汉语教程 上册 (Intermediate Chinese Volume 1) 北京语言学院出版社 (Beijing: Beijing Languages Institute Press).

- Gao, Yande, Li, Guoqiang and Guo, Xu 高彦德, 李国强, 郭旭 (1993) 外国人学习与使用汉语情况调查报告 (Investigative Research Report on the Situation of Foreigners Studying and Using Chinese). Beijing: 北京语言学院出版社 (Beijing: Beijing Languages Institute Press).
- Jiang, De (ed.) 姜德 (1990) 高级汉语教程 中册 (Advanced Chinese Volume 2) 北京语言学院出版社 (Beijing: Beijing Languages Institute Press).
- Lü, Bisong 吕必松 (1990) 对外汉语发展纲要 (Outline of the Development of Chinese as a Foreign Language). Beijing: 北京语言学院出版社 (Beijing: Beijing Languages Institute Press).
- Lü, Bisong 吕必松 (1993) ‘关于中高级汉语教学的几个问题’ (Several questions relating to intermediate and advanced Chinese teaching), 语言教学与研究 (Language Teaching and Linguistic Studies) 1: 20–33.
- MacKay, Sandra 桑德拉·莫凯 and Hu Huainian 胡怀年 (1984) ‘文学教材在英语作为外语教学中的地位’ (The status of literary materials in teaching English as a foreign language) in 语言教学与研究 (Language Teaching and Linguistics Studies) 1: 128–136.
- Shen, Shuying 沈庶英 (2012) ‘从朱德熙的《汉语教科书》看国别化汉语教材编写’ (Looking at the compilation of country-specific Chinese language teaching materials from the perspective of Zhu Dexi's Chinese course book). 徐州师范大学学报 (哲学社会科学版) *Journal of Xuzhou Normal University* (Philosophy and Social Sciences Edition) 38: 2.
- Wu, Chengnian 吴成年 (2004) ‘对文学作品作为中高级对外汉语教材的思考’ (Thoughts on using literary works for intermediate and advanced CFL teaching material). 新疆师范大学学报 (Xinjiang Normal University Journal) 25(2): 173–175.

Multimodal Pedagogy and Chinese Visual Arts in TCFL Classrooms

Rugang Lu

Introduction

The rationales for using Chinese visual arts in implementing multimodal pedagogy in TCFL classrooms are twofold: a) meaning making is distributed and multimodal; and b) language learning entails culture learning. This chapter regards the process of classroom teaching and learning as a process of meaning making in real-life communications among teachers and students in TCFL classrooms as the social context. In other words, this chapter regards the process of classroom teaching and learning as an event of discourse which is realized by assemblages of semiotics. At the same time, this chapter believes that any process of language teaching and learning, whether it is in L1 or in L2, is a process of developing learners' cultural (in the case of L1) or intercultural (in the case of L2) knowledge as well as cultural or intercultural competence.

In order to explicate how distinctly different sets of meaning-making resources can be used in implementing multimodal pedagogy in TCFL classrooms, this chapter will, first, discuss the concepts of 'mode' and 'multimodality', which are key to an understanding of modalities of written Chinese. Then it will examine the dual-modalities of written Chinese and argue that to be literate in Chinese, unlike in an alphabetic language, requires 'multimodal literacy', which would be enhanced by means of multimodal pedagogy in TCFL classrooms. After that, it will discuss briefly the post-humanist perspective on multimodal pedagogy and its relation to the epistemology embedded in Chinese script; and then it will outline four principles of multimodal pedagogy for TCFL classroom teaching. The third section of the chapter will illustrate the practicalities of using Chinese paintings and calligraphies as meaning-making resources in implementing multimodal pedagogy in line with the learning objectives of Stage 1 Chinese as outlined in *International Curriculum for Chinese Language Education* by Xu et al. (2008). And the final section of the chapter will summarize the practicalities and limitations of using Chinese visual arts for multimodal teaching in TCFL classrooms.

Theoretical Framework

Mode and Multimodality

The concept of 'mode' used in this chapter derives from semiotics as 'a general science of "signs"' (Matthews 2000:336). From a semiotic perspective, meaning making in communication

can only be accomplished by using signs which ‘may be directly representational (as when a drawing of a hand points in the direction to be taking) or symbolic (as when a cross denotes Christianity and not the Crucifixion alone), but are often entirely arbitrary (such as letters standing for speech sounds, or in mathematics a *plus sign* and a *minus sign*)’ (McArthur 1992:934). In other words a sign can be any ‘symbol’, whether it is verbal, visual or in other forms, with a meaning (i.e. a concept) attached to it. Interrelated with this notion of signs is the concept of ‘modes’, which ‘are semiotic resources which allow the simultaneous realization of discourses and types of (inter)action’ (Kress and van Leeuwen 2001:21). As semiotic resources, modes are socially and culturally shaped (Kress 2010). In other words, modes are distinctly different types of semiotic resources which have socially and culturally developed their potentials for meaning makings in communicative events; thus, a drawing of a hand pointing in the direction to be taken and a cross denoting Christianity are within the set of visual modes; while letters standing for speech sounds are within the set of verbal modes. Apart from the visual and the verbal, modes can even be tactile, olfactory, and gustatory.

The above concept of modes has its significance in the pedagogical design for language teaching. If we accept as true the proposition aforementioned in the introduction that the process of classroom teaching and learning can be regarded as an event of discourse, which is realized by using distinctly different sets of meaning-making resources, we are acknowledging the fact that language in the classroom, whether it is a mother tongue or a foreign language, is only one type of mode, i.e. the verbal mode. Apart from the verbal, there are other types of semiotic modes which have their pedagogical importance in the effectiveness of classroom teaching and learning as communicative events. One convenient example would be the use of body language as the visual mode in language teaching. It is not uncommon to see the teacher as well as students in a foreign-language classroom, particularly one taught with the direct method which emphasizes ‘explanation through actions not words’ (Zhou 2009:44), are constantly using gestures and other body movements as meaning-making resources to communicate their meanings, which are verbally beyond the students’ target language proficiencies in the class. In a beginners’ TCFL class, the teacher teaching with the direct method would often act out the meanings of ‘坐下’ and ‘站起来’ by body movements as the visual mode while simultaneously speaking out the words as the verbal mode when teaching the grammatical item of ‘directional verb compliment’ (趋向动词补语). This familiar teaching phenomenon leads us to our next key concept, the concept of ‘multimodality’.

To understand the concept of multimodality, it is necessary to understand the concept of ‘modality’, which ‘refers to the truth value or credibility of (linguistically realized) statements about the world’ (Kress and van Leeuwen 1996:160). In communication, together with language, statements of the world are often realized through simultaneous use of other forms of modes such as images, gestures, sounds, etc. In other words, ‘statements’ of the world are often multimodal. Hence, the concept of multimodality refers to the multiplicity or the assortment of semiotic resources people use to make the ‘true’ sense of the world, whether it is the physical world we live in or the mimetic world we depict through meaning-making practices. As pointed out by Jewitt et al., multimodality has both broad and narrow definitions:

In a broad definition, it highlights that people draw on distinctly different sets of resources for meaning-making such as gaze, speech, and gesture. The narrower definition stresses that in actual instances of meaning making, these resources are used in conjunction to form multimodal wholes.

(Jewitt et al. 2016:158)

Multimodality as an interdisciplinary research subject only began to be prominent in academic studies in the last two decades of the twentieth century due to the rapid development in technology which has made multimodal representations a common experience in people's daily life, especially in the 'virtual world' online. Ever since, multimodality has become increasingly popular in research into semiotics as a general 'science' about meaning making (Kress and van Leeuwen 2006, 2001; Scollon and Scollon 2003) and in the studies of discourse analysis which aim to understand how people make meanings (Machin 2016; Jewitt 2009; Bateman 2008). Central to human's meaning-making practices are literacy and communication; thus, multimodality has also become increasingly popular in the studies of literacy (Jewitt 2005; 2008; Rowsell 2013; Street 2012) and in the studies of communication (Kress 2010; Hull and Nelson 2005). More relevant to our discussions in this chapter are studies of multimodality in education (Kiss and Weninger 2017; Kress et al. 2001; Kress and Bezemer 2016; Kress et al. 2005). Those interdisciplinary researches show that multimodality as a concept has its potential to be examined as a way of meaning making, as an approach to analyze meaning making, and as pedagogy for classroom teaching. The concept of multimodality also has its potential as an approach for doing researches (Lu 2009a).

The concepts of mode and multimodality discussed above are central to our understanding of modalities of written Chinese and to the design of multimodal pedagogy in TCFL classrooms. The next section is going to carry out an analysis of features of written Chinese and its literacy route by drawing on the above discussions of mode and multimodality.

Dual-Modalities of Written Chinese and Its Literacy Route

Based on the concepts of mode and multimodality discussed in the previous section, it is true to say that all written languages as semiotic 'signs' for the realization of discursive events are multimodal in nature. Just as Kress et al. (2005: 35) point out, 'signs are always multimodal and each modality brings the possibility of expressing and shaping meanings'. However, if we disregard the mere visual element of script reading as visual mode and only take into consideration the functioning of different written languages, it is possible to roughly categorize all the written languages into monomodal languages and multimodal languages. All the alphabetic languages such as English, French, and German are monomodal; because the function of scripts of such languages is to map the **grapheme-phoneme** correspondences and their differences only exist in the way in which the graphemes map the phonemes. In other words, scripts of alphabetic languages are 'transcribing' the spoken languages. As far as their modalities are concerned, they belong to the same type: verbal; thus, alphabetic languages are monomodal languages. Literacy routes in such languages 'emphasize the linguistic sign as a set of mapping between phonological forms and conceptual meanings or communicative intentions' (Ellis 2003:63).

Different from the mapping system of a monomodal alphabetic language such as English, the mapping system of written Chinese as a character language does not directly map between phonological forms and conceptual meanings. Although each character is 'realized phonetically by a single syllable' (Matthews 2000:53), being an ideographic language originated from pictographs, the signs of Chinese script represent meanings much more directly than alphabetic scripts do. In other words, there is a theoretic contrast between the mapping of Chinese and that of an alphabetic language as explained by Hoosain:

Letters of alphabetic languages and syllabaries of syllabic languages primarily represent sounds. Characters, on the other hand, represent meaning directly; they also have one-to-one relationship with their pronunciation. This distinction is sometimes described as the

contrast between script mapping onto the sound of language and script mapping onto meaning.

(Hoosain 1991:12)

As clearly revealed in the above quotation, unlike a monomodal alphabetic language with grapheme-phoneme mapping, characters of Chinese script have a dual-mapping function: **grapheme-sound + grapheme-morpheme**. In other words, Chinese script is of dual-modalities: verbal + visual.

The distinction between the grapheme-phoneme mapping of an alphabetic language and the dual-mappings of grapheme-sound + grapheme-morpheme of written Chinese has a significant impact on the meaning makings of these two different types of languages as argued by Lu:

For linguistic signs polarized towards VERBAL modality such as English, the semiotic signification or the meaning making of the linguistic signs is characteristic of being contextual; as the language context is an indispensable element in the meaning making of verbal language. For linguistic signs typical of dual modalities such as Chinese, the semiotic signification or the meaning making of the linguistic signs is not only contextual but also etymological.

(Lu 2009b:129)

The example in Figure 29.1 from Lu (ibid.) would demonstrate the point clearly.

In the example, those three italic English words *tetheratch*, *belds*, and *seriout*, and those three Chinese characters are all pseudo-words; the Chinese pseudo characters are not related to the English ones in the example. In reading the English sentence, although we do not know exactly what they are, we can guess very accurately that *tetheratch* is a 'tree' since the context tells us it is in the 'garden' and has 'branches' and 'leaves'; likewise, *belds* are 'insects' and *seriout* is a 'substance'. Our grapheme-phoneme knowledge in English also leads us to pronounce them something like /tiðərətʃ/, /beldz/, and /si:riət/, which would be also quite accurate if they were actual words. However, if those three English words were taken out of context and tested as individual lexicon items, we would have no clue at all what they are although we would still be able to guess how they might be pronounced. The example clearly shows that, English as a monomodal verbal language with grapheme-phoneme script mapping, the meaning making of its semiotic signs is contextual.

Unlike those three English pseudo words, even without a language context, it is still possible to guess the meanings of those three Chinese pseudo characters with a degree of accuracy by examining the radicals. However, it is virtually beyond hope to guess their pronunciations,

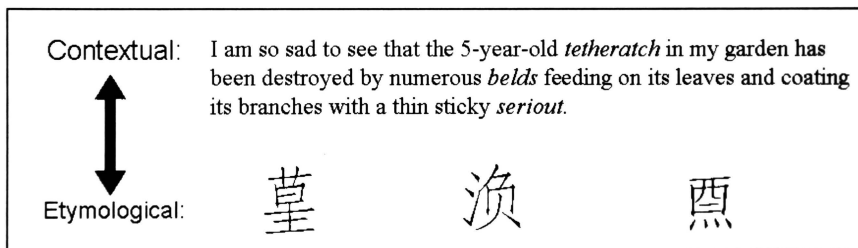


Figure 29.1 English and Chinese pseudo words

because the function of the dual-mapping system of grapheme-sound + grapheme-morpheme is different from that of grapheme-phoneme mapping. In the dual-mappings of a Chinese character as a semiotic sign, the meaning making of the morpheme in the grapheme-morpheme mapping is etymological with a visual modality; while the ‘sound’ in the grapheme-sound mapping, unlike the ‘phoneme’ in the grapheme-phoneme mapping, is hardly phonetic. In other words the ‘sound’ is not a phonetic system mapping the pronunciation of the language; it is only ‘verbally’ attached to the grapheme. Although orthographically almost as many as 80 percent of Chinese characters are phono-semantic compounds, just as showed by the second pseudo character in the example above, the ‘phono-’ components of phono-semantic characters in Chinese script are only the ‘verbal’ indications, not the phonetic representations. Otherwise Pinyin system would be redundant. We cannot say in certainty how to pronounce the second pseudo character by looking at its phono component ‘负’; but we can guess its meaning in a degree of certainty because of its water radical. And we could be very certain about the meaning of the third pseudo character in the example as ‘to heat’ by just looking at its components with the ‘fire’ radical under ‘a liquid container’.

The above distinction between these two different mapping systems has its importance in revealing how the route of literacy in Chinese differs from that of an alphabetic language. The distinction is, fundamentally, epistemological. For grapheme-phoneme mapping, it is based on the logic that ‘our thinking and the transfer/communication of knowledge are rooted in human speech’ (Lu 2009b:126). Therefore, literacy in the system of grapheme-phoneme mapping takes the route of ‘grapheme (i.e. spelling)—phoneme (i.e. pronunciation)—concept (i.e. meaning)’. To become literate in this route is to acquire an ability to be able to ‘verbally’ establish the truth value or credibility of statements about the world. In other words, to gain literacy through this route is epistemologically to be able to understand verbally ‘the world-as-a-text’ (Mirzoeff 1999:7).

Different from the system of grapheme-phoneme mapping, the dual-mapping system of grapheme-sound + grapheme-morpheme of Chinese script is based on the logic that our thinking and the transfer/communication of knowledge are fulfilled not only verbally through human speech, which belongs to the type of arbitrary signs, but also concurrently through other types of ‘signs’, which, as discussed earlier in the previous section, can be directly representational or symbolic. Therefore, literacy in Chinese primarily takes the route of ‘grapheme (i.e. use of characters)—representation (i.e. visualization)—concepts (i.e. meanings)’; while the route of ‘grapheme-sound-concept’ is hardly established. To become literate through this route is epistemologically to be able to represent visually ‘the world-as-a-picture’ as well as to understand verbally ‘the world-as-a-text’ (Mirzoeff, *ibid.*).

The above distinction between these two different mapping systems also has its importance in revealing why it needs a greater effort to become literate in Chinese. The function of graphemes in the system of grapheme-phoneme mapping is to record/transcribe different phonemes of the language. The number of phonemes in any language in the world is limited, ‘normally within 20 to 30 phonemes’ (Da 2009:107); therefore, only a limited number of graphemes are needed to transcribe the spoken language. For instance, English only has 26 alphabets. Different from grapheme-phoneme mapping, the function of the graphemes in the grapheme-morpheme mapping in the dual-mapping system of written Chinese is to ‘represent’ the meanings of different morphemes of the language. A language, no matter what type it is, normally has a big number of morphemes. According to Da (*ibid.*), ‘the graphemes representing the most basic morphemes of an ideographic language can be several hundreds to a thousand. For example there are about 500 basic graphemes representing the most basic morphemes in Chinese’. If we would put aside other aspects and regard language literacy as an ability to code and decode

the system of mapping in using graphemes (i.e. signs), it is obvious that much greater effort is needed to acquire the ability to use at least 500 basic graphemes in Chinese compared to the effort in knowing the functioning of 26 alphabets in English. It is worthy pointing out that, many of these 500 basic graphemes in Chinese are pictographs (象形), ideographs (指事), and compound ideographs (会意), which are direct signs or symbols. In other words, they are of visual rather than verbal modalities.

The above discussion on dual-modalities of written Chinese and its literacy route tells us that, unlike learning an alphabetic language, which is essentially, as argued earlier, to acquire an ability to be able to ‘verbally’ establish the truth value or credibility of statements about the world, learning Chinese is not only to acquire that verbal ability, but also to acquire an ability to represent the truth value ‘visually’; otherwise the learner will be ‘eloquent but blind’ (Kupfer 2007:1). In other words, to learn Chinese it is necessary to develop multimodal literacy rather than monomodal literacy.

Multimodal Pedagogy and Principles of Multimodal Teaching

Pedagogy, by definition, is about ‘the methods and principles of teaching’ (Rundell 2007:1101). In this section, the conceptualization of the principles of multimodal pedagogy for developing multimodal literacy in Chinese as a foreign language is based on a posthumanistic understanding of meaning-making practice in a language classroom. In contrast to the traditional humanistic language pedagogy, which emphasizes the central role of either the teacher or the learner and their cognitions in the meaning-making practice in language teaching, a posthumanistic multimodal pedagogy takes up the perspective that meaning making is not within the human cognition conceptualized as the ‘input—cognition—output’ cognitive sandwich (Hurley 1998). From a posthumanist perspective, meaning making is ‘a far more distributed process, involving places, things, senses, bodies’ (Pennycook 2018:53). A posthumanistic multimodal pedagogy de-centers both the teacher and the learner in the language classroom and regards the meaning-making practice in language teaching and learning as a distributed, situated, and embodied process.

The above posthumanist vision on meaning-making practice corresponds to the epistemology embedded in Chinese script. Central to the posthumanist vision on meaning-making practice is that meaning making, rather than being centrally located within the human cognition in his brain with hearing and vision as the dominant cognitive senses, is distributed across places, things, senses, bodies, and that meaning is construed by multiple semiotic resources ‘used in conjunction to form multimodal wholes’ (Jewitt et al. 2016:158) rather than by language alone as the ‘filling’ in the cognitive sandwich of ‘input—cognition—output’. Pennycook (2017; 2018) has used ‘distributed language’ and ‘semiotic assemblages’ to push language outside the ‘head’ and to pinpoint the multimodality of meaning-making practice.

A very brief examination of Chinese script will show that the notions of distributed language and semiotic assemblages are evidently reflected in the epistemology embedded in the constructing of Chinese characters. To save the space and for the convenience of discussion, distributed language and semiotic assemblages can be regarded as two sides of the same token since both of them emphasize the same notion that meaning making is distributed, not verbal-centric in human cognition. The discussion on dual-modalities of written Chinese in the previous section has already, to some extent, demonstrated the notion of semiotic assemblages in the meaning making of Chinese script. A brief look at the ways in which Chinese characters were created will further illustrate that, epistemologically, the construction of knowledge of the world in Chinese script is distributed across senses, bodies, places, and things; and a system of meaning relations is established through ‘distributing’. It is evident that all the pictographs (象形) such

as 山日田火 in Chinese script are created by distributing ‘meanings’ directly to ‘things’, as they are directly representational. Many ideographs (指事) such as 本末上下 and compound ideographs (会意) such as 从北休泪 are created by distributing ‘meanings’ to ‘space’ or ‘physical’ relations among people, things, animals etc. The epistemological understanding that knowledge of the world is ‘distributed’ is also manifestly embedded in the creation of all the phono-semantic characters (形声字) such as 柳杨桃杉 and 桶捅通涌, as all the semantic radicals in phono-semantic characters function as ‘meaning distributors’ as well as ‘meaning differentiators’ in the categorization of the world knowledge in Chinese script. It is evident that the notion of distributed language is embedded in the epistemology of Chinese characters; because Chinese culture is not an anthropocentric culture; it is a culture of harmonious unification of human and the nature.

The above discussion on the correlation between the posthumanist perspective on decentering the teacher and the learner as human actors in the meaning-making practice in language teaching and ‘distributed meaning’ in Chinese script has two significant implications for the conceptualization of the principles of multimodal TCFL pedagogy in this chapter. First, the implication of decentering the teacher and the learner as human actors. As aforementioned in the introduction, this chapter regards the process of classroom teaching and learning as a process of meaning making in real-life communications among teachers and students in TCFL classrooms as the social context. Under the posthumanist perspective, it is necessary to re-evaluate the roles of the learner as well as the teacher as human actors in the process of teaching and learning. Although the essence of posthumanist decentering human actor in meaning-making practice is different from that of the longstanding debate on teacher-centered vs learner-centered approaches in language classrooms, it does provide a new viewpoint to look at the issue. The fundamental argument for a learner-centered approach is to develop the learner’s competence as an autonomous target language user; while the development of his competence is, supposedly, achieved through autonomous functioning of the cognition sandwich: input—cognition—output, with language as the means for the cognitive ‘filling’. Rather than positioning the learner as a cognition-centered ‘human actor’ at the center of the meaning-making practice in the classroom, multimodal pedagogy with a posthumanist vision puts him within an extensive system of relations, which goes beyond human relations existing within and outside the classroom to other forms of relations such as time, space, objects, artifacts, instruments, and any other forms of human enhancement.

Closely related to the above implication of decentering the learner as the human actor in the meaning-making practice in a language classroom is the implication of ‘distributed meaning’. Rather than regarding language as the internalized cognitive device and the ultimate semiotic resource for meaning-making practice, multimodal pedagogy with a posthumanist vision which regards both language and cognition as distributed and extended (Clark 2008; Hutchins 1995, Pennycook 2018) believes that second-language development is also a ‘distributed process’ (Pennycook 2018:9). This distributed process is multidimensional. At the human dimension, the learner’s second-language development not only relates to his audio-visual senses (which are regarded as the key elements in humanist pedagogy), but also involves other bodily senses such as tactile, olfactory, and gustatory, as well as physical movements of the body. At the language dimension, the learner’s second-language development not only relates to his L1 and L2, but also involves any other languages he encounters, which he may or may not be able to use. At the semiotic dimension, the learner’s second-language development not only relates to languages as verbal semiotic resources, but also involves any resources which have meaning potentials in the process of teaching and learning, which can be artifacts, objects, instruments, and any forms of human enhancement. At the space dimension, the learner’s second-language development

not only relates to the classroom layout, but also pertains to where he positions in relation to the classroom layouts, objects, other students, and the teacher. To facilitate the multidimensional distributed process of second-language development as discussed above, it is necessary to implement multidimensional and multimodal pedagogy in TCFL classrooms.

Based on the above discussions on the multimodality of Chinese script and the posthumanist perspective on pedagogy, this chapter suggests the following four principles of TCFL multimodal pedagogy with a posthumanist vision:

- teaching and learning should be an open-end natural flow of communication.
- teaching and learning should be distributed and extended.
- teaching and learning should include other cultural modes such as visual arts, performing arts, life styles etc.
- teaching and learning should be situated and relational.

Principle 1 emphasizes that, rather than regarding the process of classroom CFL teaching and learning as an educational process for the sole sake of educating the learner to acquire the target language competence as the cognitive ‘filling’ in his cognitive sandwich of input—cognition—output, the process of classroom CFL teaching and learning should be regarded as a process of meaning making in real-life communications among teachers and students in TCFL classrooms as the social context. Thus, although each lesson has its specific objectives and contents, the delivery of those objectives and contents needs to be an open-ended natural flow of communication in the real life of the teacher and the learner in the classroom.

Principle 2 emphasizes that language should be regarded not just as an internalized system or individual competence in the meaning-making practice in a CFL classroom. Meaning making is fulfilled through distributing meaning across other forms of relations such as time, space, objects, artifacts, instruments, and any other forms of human enhancement.

Principle 3 emphasizes that meaning in the meaning-making practice, either inside or outside the classroom, is always made by means of semiotic assemblages, not just through supposedly ‘internalized’ L1 or L2 as verbal semiotic resources. It is a multidimensional and multimodal practice through semiotic assemblages.

Principle 4 emphasizes that the process of classroom teaching and learning as a process of meaning-making practice is, in its essence, a process of sociocultural practice characteristic of being entangled. Neither the teacher nor the student is at the center of the meaning-making practice in the classroom. They are both within an extensive system of relations which goes beyond human relations existing within and outside the classroom to other forms of relations as embedded in Principle 2.

The above four principles of multimodal pedagogy for TCFL classrooms are grounded in three fundamental beliefs of posthumanist vision on applied linguistics: a) being human is defined by his relation to the ‘world’, not just by his cognitive ability to use language to communicate; b) language should be regarded not just as an internalized system or individual competence, but as ‘embodied, embedded and distributed across people, places and time’ (Pennycook 2018:51); and c) meaning in the meaning-making practice is made through assemblages of semiotics.

Those four principles emphasize that, in the process of language teaching, everyone and everything present in the classroom are within an extensive system of relations; they are all part of the meaning making ‘reservoir’. For example, in teaching the linguistic principle of ‘frame to theme’ in Chinese, when the teacher takes the role as the initiator in the meaning making and points to the textbook on the desk while saying ‘桌子上有一本书。’ or ‘桌子上放着一本书。’, the meaning is distributed across the teacher’s utterance, his gesture, the spatial relation

between the book and the desk, as well as the book and the desk as objects; thus, the event of meaning making relates to an assemblage of semiotics rather than to the teacher's utterance only as the verbal mode. This assemblage of semiotics functions as a whole to facilitate the learner to interpret the message sent by the teacher. Meaning in real-life communication is always distributed, not 'made' by the verbal language alone.

The proposed multimodal pedagogy guided by the four principles outlined above opens up the potential to include different materials for meaning-making practice in TCFL classroom teaching. Due to word limitation, this chapter will only introduce how to use Chinese calligraphies and paintings in multimodal CFL teaching.

Chinese Visual Arts and Multimodal Pedagogy in Stage 1 Chinese

The rationale to use Chinese calligraphies and paintings in the material development in this section is grounded in the above theoretical exploration. As pointed out by Masuhara and Tomlinson (2010:410), 'Materials development is where theory is tested through the use of the materials that embody the theories'. It is also important to note that, in foreign-language teaching, material development is not only theory-driven, but also goal-oriented; and in most cases, goals are stipulated in curriculums. This section uses 'Stage 1 Objectives and Content' in *International Curriculum for Chinese Language Education* by Xu et al. (2008) in designing visual-art-based materials for multimodal Chinese teaching guided by the four principles discussed earlier.

As aforementioned in the introduction, this chapter believes that any process of language teaching and learning, whether it is in L1 or in L2, is a process of developing learners' cultural (in the case of L1) or intercultural (in the case of L2) knowledge as well as cultural or intercultural competence. Chinese calligraphies and paintings, as two unique forms of Chinese mainstream visual arts, have their salient practicality in developing L2 Chinese learners' 'interdisciplinary strategies' and 'cultural awareness' as stipulated in 'Stage 1 Objectives and Content' in the Hanban's *curriculum*. From the perspective of multimodal TCFL pedagogy proposed in this chapter, their salient practicality extends from their uniqueness as Chinese visual arts for intercultural knowledge to their potentials as semiotic resources for developing L2 Chinese learners' awareness of multimodality and distributed meaning making. The meaning making of Chinese calligraphies and Chinese paintings shares the same features as Chinese script, which is characteristic of being multimodal, embodied, distributed, and situated. The discussion here will only focus on the practicality to use Chinese calligraphies and paintings as semiotic resources in teaching Chinese characters and grammar items in Stage 1 Chinese, not on their aesthetic values for developing the learner's interdisciplinary and intercultural awareness. The material development is guided by the four principles of multimodal pedagogy as conceptualized earlier. Each sample will be described in terms of 'four points' on teaching methods as proposed by Simensen (1998:17):

- *major characteristics,*
- *classroom procedures,*
- *objectives and content, and*
- *background and theoretical assumptions*

The following are the overall objectives of teaching and learning characters and words and grammar in Stage 1 Chinese as described in the Hanban's *Curriculum* (2008:3):

Character and word:

With teacher guidance:

1. master 150 common Chinese characters (ideograms) toward proficiency in the four skills areas of reading, listening, speaking, and writing;
2. recognize basic components of characters and radicals;
3. recognize strokes and stroke order of characters;
4. understand the relationships between characters and words;
5. master 300 words related to daily life and school life.

Grammar:

Know and master:

1. basic word order;
2. common sentence patterns, general questions and negative sentences with 不;
3. common nouns, numerals and measure words;
4. personal pronouns and demonstratives;
5. basic expressions to describe a person or an object;
6. common verbs, adjectives and adverbs of degree.

The rest of the chapter will design two samples of using Chinese calligraphies and paintings as multimodal semiotics resources for teaching and learning the above overall objectives of teaching and learning characters, words, and grammar in Stage 1 Chinese.

Sample 1: Calligraphy for Character and Grammar Learning

This is a sample of multimodal character and grammar teaching through writing calligraphy. Figure 29.2 is a sample of calligraphy work for classroom teaching:

The following are ‘four points’ of the teaching method for this sample.

Point 1. Major characteristics:

hands-on, merged cultural and linguistic knowledge, multimodal meaning making, engaging, unexpected effects

Point 2. Objectives and content:

Character learning: write pictographs 山水日月, ideographs 中上天, and phono-semantic character 夜; understand common words 筷子, 墨水 and 书法; understand measure words 根、双、张; learn stroke orders

Grammar learning: a) usage of measure words; b) no quantifier and measure words after negation 没有; c) usage of co-verb 用 (with); d) repetition of nouns to denote the meaning of ‘every’

Point 3. Classroom procedures:

- before class: for the teacher and each student prepare one chopstick, one piece of blank paper (A4), and some ink to share; one pencil for the teacher.



Figure 29.2 Sample calligraphy for classroom teaching

- in class:
 - a) Show chopsticks to students and ask in Chinese what they are, what they are for, how to use etc. Note that this is for warming up, do not go into too much detail.
 - b) Distribute every other student a pair of chopsticks while saying in Chinese 我给你一双筷子。 etc. After distribution, pointing to those students holding the chopsticks and say 某某、某某、某某三（？）位同学都有一双筷子。 Write the measure word 双 and explain in English. Pointing to those students without chopsticks and say 某某、某某、某某三（？）位同学都没有筷子。 with an emphatic gesture on 没有. Write 没有 and emphasize in English that no quantifier and measure words are used before the object noun when using the negation word 没有. Ask a student having chopsticks to give one chopstick to a student without chopsticks by saying 某某，请你给某某一根筷子。 Write the measure word 根 and explain in English. Ask the rest of the students to share chopsticks so that everyone has one chopstick. Say 现在你们人人都有一根筷子。 and gesturing with a hand to several students when saying 人人.

- c) Hold up the calligraphy work and say the following:
我们今天学书法 (say: calligraphy)。我们不用铅笔 (hold up the pencil and put it down) 写书法, 我们用筷子 (hold up the chopstick) 写书法。我们要用墨水 (hold up a bottle) 写。Write the sentence structure ‘用 ... do sth.’ and explain the usage in English.
 - d) Hold up the paper and say: 我现在给你们每人一张白纸。Distribute the paper and say: 你们现在人人(hand gesture)都有一张纸。Write 张and explain that it is a measure word for objects like a piece of paper such as tickets, photos, money notes etc. and for objects which have a flat surface such as desks and beds. Count three pieces of A4 paper with hand gesture while saying 一张纸, 两张纸, 三张纸。Then count the desks using 张.
 - e) Hold up the calligraphy work and say 写书法要从上到下 (hand gesture), 从右到左 (hand gesture) 写。Write 从 ... 到 ... explain and repeat 写书法要从上到下 (hand gesture), 从右到左 (hand gesture) 写。
 - f) Teacher demonstrates how to write. While preparing and writing, repeat those main grammatical points above as if he was instructing himself.
 - g) Students practice; teacher walks around and encourages, gives guidance when needed.
 - h) After students finish writing, ask different students to explain ‘天天’‘夜夜’‘山上’‘水中’. Translate the meaning of the calligraphy work to students.
 - i) Explain 山水日月are pictographs, and draw the pictures;中上天 are ideographs, and point out the spatial relation of the meaning indicator in each character; and夜is phono-semantic.
 - j) Depending on the teaching syllabus used, either move on to the next phase of teaching such as using pictures showing Chinese calligraphy in real-life situations to teach culture knowledge, explain different major styles of Chinese calligraphy, etc., or move on to other teaching contents, or end the class.
- after class:
 - a) Ask students to write or voice record a short paragraph in Chinese to describe what they did in writing their calligraphies in the class.
 - b) Ask students to rewrite their calligraphies in different styles using online tools such as: www.diyiziti.com/.

Point 4. Background and theoretical assumptions:

As revealed in the above three points, this sample of material development is guided by those four principles of multimodal TCFL pedagogy as discussed earlier. Principle 1, rather than using a pre-written TCFL text, which is in most cases unauthentic, the teaching is an open-end real classroom communication. The learner learns not only through his engagement in understanding the teacher's instructions and producing his own calligraphy work in class, but also through his independent study after class in writing or voice recording his activity and to rewrite a calligraphy work in different styles. The whole process of teaching and learning is temporal-spatially situated and distributed. Principle 2, distributed language and assemblages of semiotics. As far as the teacher is concerned, he uses L1 and L2 speeches, L2 writing, gestures, objects (chopstick, pencil, paper, desk, ink etc.), students, as well as the real classroom situations

(for example when half of the students have a pair of chopsticks and half of them do not for teaching 一双 and when every student has a chopstick for teaching 一根 and 人人). Without the assemblages of those meaning-making resources, the teacher and the students will not be able to communicate. Principle 3, language learning needs to include other forms of cultural modes such as Chinese calligraphy in this example. Principle 4, teaching and learning should be situated and relational. In the example, neither the teacher nor the learner is at the center of this meaning-making practice. They are both in a dynamic system of relations, which is truly entangled. For example, the meaning making of Point b) for in-class activity relies heavy on the real classroom situation as situated communicative context. And finally, because of active engagement, multiplicity of modes used, authentic communication in the meaning-making process, and unexpected use of chopsticks, the learner learns effectively.

Sample2: Chinese Painting for Character and Grammar Learning

This is a sample of multimodal character and grammar teaching through Chinese paintings. Figure 29.3 is a sample Chinese painting for classroom teaching.

The following are ‘four points’ of the teaching method for this sample:

Point 1. Major characteristics:

hands-on, merged cultural and linguistic knowledge, multimodal meaning making, engaging, relaxing



Figure 29.3 Sample painting for classroom teaching

Point 2. Objectives and content:

Character learning: a) write color words 红黄绿黑白; b) learn measure words 只个张条; c) understand compound ideographs 墨 and 笔; d) understand the animal radical 犭 and write the phono-semantic character 猫; e) familiar with some words for body parts of an animal

Grammar learning: a) learn 是 sentence structure and 有 sentence structure; b) understand the different usages of adjectives and nouns of color words in Chinese; c) learn animal pronoun 它; d) learn 是 的 sentence structure for categorization.

Point 3. Classroom procedures:

- before class: a) prepare a ppt slide of the sample painting; b) prepare some Chinese brushes and ink cakes, a set of Chinese painting color, a cup of water; c) for the teacher and every student prepare one copy of the painting in Figure 29.3 in black and white.
- in class:
 - a) show the ppt slide say with a hand gesture 这是一只猫。Write 猫 and explain in English the animal radical 犭, pointing out that the radical is an icon (picture) of an animal, pointing out the similarity between the radical and the shape of the cat in the painting. Write 狗 and 狼 for further examples of the radical. Repeat 这是一只猫。Write 一只 before 猫 and explain in English 只 is the measure word for animals smaller than dogs such as cats, rats, rabbits etc.; it is also the measure word for birds and flying insects etc. Also point out that 只 is the measure word for some of the body parts such as ear, eye, hand, foot.
 - b) Say again with a hand gesture 这是一只猫。Write 这是 before 一只猫。Under the sentence 这是一只猫。Write the sentence structure ‘S 是 O’ and explain in English that 是 is used like ‘be’ before nouns or pronouns to identify or describe the subject.
 - c) Say with hand gestures 它有两只耳朵 (pointing to the ears), 两只眼睛 (pointing to the eyes), 一个鼻子 (pointing to the nose), 一张嘴 (pointing to the mouth). Write the measure words 只个张 and explain that there are different measure words for different parts of the body in Chinese. As a further example, write 条 and explain it is the measure word for legs and arms, and animal tails. Write 它有四条腿。Under the sentence, write the sentence structure ‘S 有 O’ and explain in English that 有 is used like ‘have’ in English to express possession.
 - d) Say in a rhythm: 一只猫有一个鼻子一张嘴, 两只耳朵两只眼睛四条腿。Use the same rhythm and ask different students to count the numbers of body parts for two cats, three cats, and four cats, starting with 两只猫 . . . and so on and so forth.
 - e) Keep one copy of the black and white painting for later use. Hand out to each student a copy of the painting. Then say 现在你们每人都有一张画。这是一张中国画。在中国, 中国画叫国画。画国画要用毛笔 (show the brush) 墨 (show the ink cake) 和国画颜料 (show the paints). Write 国画、毛笔、墨 and hand out the brushes and the ink cakes to students. Explain that 笔 and 墨 are compound ideographs: 竹 + 毛 and 黑 + 土 and ask students to feel with fingers the bamboo handles and the hair of Chinese brushes, and the soil texture of the ink cakes.
 - f) Say 这张画是黑白的 (pointing to black and white). Write 是黑白的 and explain that 是 的 sentence structure with 的 at the end can be used for categorization.
 - g) Say 黑白的画不好看。我们用毛笔 (show a brush) 和颜料 (show a tube of color) 画颜色。画颜色要用水 (dip a brush into the water in the cup and wipe

- out the excessive water at the rim of the cup) 和颜料 (put on a color on the brush) 。 Ask all the students who have a brush to wet the brush with water.
- h) Say 请某某、某某和某某用红色 (show red paint) , 某某、某某和某某用黄色 (show yellow paint), 某某、某某和某某用绿色 (show green paint)。 Hand out tubes of different colors to different students named and let them put on the colors. Then say: 某某、某某和某某的笔是红色的 (pointing the red paint on their brush), and ask: 某某、某某和某某你们的笔是什么颜色? 某某、某某和某某你们的笔呢? Write 红黄绿。
 - i) Say: 我们现在画颜色 (gestures) 。 Please listen to me carefully everyone, 我说颜色, 你们画 (gestures) 。 You will need to borrow brushes from other students if you do not have the right color. Listen carefully: 猫的眼睛 (pointing) 是绿色的, 鼻子 (pointing) 和脚 (pointing) 是红色的, 背毛 (pointing) 是黄色的, 腿 (pointing) 是白色的, 耳朵 (pointing) 是黑色的。现在请大家画颜色 (gesturing) 。
 - j) Let the students paint the color; the teacher walks around the classroom and repeats the colors in Chinese if necessary.
 - k) After students finished painting the color, say: 这张画是黑白的 (show the copy reserved) , 不好看。你们的画 (gesturing) 画了颜色, 很好看。
- after class:

Ask students to write or voice record a short paragraph in Chinese to describe his favorite cat or dog.

Point 4. Background and theoretical assumptions:

As revealed in the above three points, this sample of material development, the same as *Sample 1* above, is guided by those four principles of multimodal TCFL pedagogy. Apart from sharing all those theoretical assumptions discussed in Point 4 of *Sample 1*, there are three further elements which make the teaching even more multimodal. The in-class Procedure d) in this sample uses rhythm as a semiotic resource to enhance the meaning making of those measure words for body parts; Procedure e) uses tactile modes (i.e. by using fingers to feel the bamboo holders and hair of the brushes and the texture of soil of the ink cakes) as semiotic resources; and Procedure h) uses colors as visual modes. Therefore, the language and meaning making of this sample, apart from sharing all those features of *Sample 1*, are more distributed and multimodal.

Summary

This chapter explores the practicality of using Chinese visual arts in implementing multimodal pedagogy in TCFL classrooms. By drawing on concepts of mode and multimodality in interdisciplinary semiotic studies, the chapter has examined the literacy route of Chinese language in relation to its dual-modalities and argued that, unlike learning an alphabetic language, which is essentially monomodal, to learn Chinese as a multimodal language, it is necessary to develop multimodal literacy. The difference between monomodal and multimodal literacies, in its essence, is the difference between humanist and posthumanist understandings of meaning-making practice. This chapter has deliberated that to develop multimodal literacy in Chinese entails the need to apply multimodal pedagogy in TCFL classrooms with a posthumanist perspective.

Central to the proposed multimodal pedagogy for TCFL classroom teaching is the posthumanist stance on second language development, which regards L2 development as a 'distributed process' (Pennycook 2018:9) rather than as a cognitive process to internalize the target language. Guided by such a stance, the chapter has conceptualized four principles of multimodal pedagogy for TCFL classroom teaching. These four principles of multimodal pedagogy for TCFL classrooms are grounded in three fundamental beliefs of posthumanist vision on applied linguistics, which are in line with the Chinese vision of harmonious unification of human and the nature and the epistemological stance embedded in the making of Chinese characters as ideographic language.

Based on the proposed four principles of multimodal pedagogy for TCFL classrooms, this chapter has demonstrated the practicality of using Chinese visual arts as semiotic resources in TCFL classrooms. As revealed by both examples, Chinese visual arts such as calligraphies and paintings have their salient place in TCFL language classrooms not only because of their potential to develop the learner's intercultural and interdisciplinary knowledge but also because of their potential to distribute language across multiple semiotic resources in the classroom; thus, the process of the learner's L2 Chinese development becomes a distribute process true to real-life meaning-making practices.

The central theme of the chapter is to propose a shift in pedagogical stance from humanist monomodal verbal language teaching to posthumanist multimodal distributed language teaching for two reasons. First, meaning making, no matter it is inside or outside language classrooms, is situated, distributed, emergent, and embodied, not verbal-centered. Therefore, rather than 'internalizing' the language in the 'head' and 'fixing' it in the 'text', language teaching needs to distribute the language across semiotic resources. Second, the meaning making of Chinese language as an ideographic language is multimodal and distributed. Therefore, the teaching of L2 Chinese needs to be multimodal and distributed, i.e. to implement the multimodal pedagogy as proposed in this chapter.

References

- Bateman, J. (2008) *Multimodality and Genre: A Foundation for the Systematic Analysis of Multimodal Documents*. New York: Palgrave Macmillan.
- Clark, A. (2008) *Supersizing the Mind: Embodiment, Action, and Cognitive Extension*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Da, S. (2009) 'A brief discussion on Chinese character teaching'. In G. Zhang (ed.), *Chinese Language Teaching and Learning: Theories and Practices*, 107–114. London: Cypress Book.
- Ellis, N. (2003) 'Constructions, chunking, and connectionism: The emergence of second language structure'. In C. Doughty and M. Long (eds.), *The Handbook of Second Language Acquisition*, 63–103. Oxford: Blackwell Publishing.
- Hoosain, R. (1991) *Psycholinguistic Implications for Linguistic Relativity: A Case Study of Chinese*. New Jersey: Lawrence Erlbaum Associates.
- Hull, G. and Nelson, M. (2005) Locating the Semiotic Power of Multimodality. *Written Communication* 22(2): 224–261.
- Hurley, S. (1998) *Consciousness in Action*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- Hutchins, E. (1995) *Cognition in the Wild*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- Jewitt, C. (2005) 'Multimodality, "Reading", and "Writing" for the 21st Century'. *Discourse: Studies in the Cultural Politics of Education* 26(3): 315–331.
- Jewitt, C. (2008) 'Multimodality and literacy in school classrooms'. *Review of Research in Education* 32(1): 241–267.

- Jewitt, C. (ed.) (2009) *The Routledge Handbook of Multimodal Analysis*. London: Routledge.
- Jewitt, C., Bezemer, J. and O'Halloran, K. (2016) *Introducing Multimodality*. London: Routledge.
- Kiss, T. and Weninger, C. (2017) 'Cultural learning in the EFL classroom: The role of visual'. *ELT Journal* 71(2): 186–196.
- Kress, G. (2010) *Multimodality: A Social Semiotic Approach to Contemporary Communication*. London: Routledge.
- Kress, G. and Bezemer, J. (2016) *Multimodality, Learning and Communication: A Social Semiotic Frame*. London: Routledge.
- Kress, G. and van Leeuwen, T. (1996) *Reading Images: The Grammar of Visual Design*. London: Routledge.
- Kress, G. and van Leeuwen, T. (2001) *Multimodal Discourse: The Modes and Media of Contemporary Communication*. London: Arnold.
- Kress, G. and van Leeuwen, T. (2006) *Reading Images: The Grammar of Visual Design*, 2nd edn. London: Routledge.
- Kress, G. et al. (2001) *Multimodal Teaching and Learning: The Rhetorics of the Science Classroom*. London: Continuum.
- Kress, G. et al. (2005) *English in Urban Classrooms: A Multimodal Perspective on Teaching and Learning*. London: Routledge Falmer.
- Kupfer, P. (2007) 'Eloquent but blind: The problem of reading proficiency in Chinese as a foreign language'. In A. Guder, X. Jiang and Y. Wan (eds.), *The Cognition, Learning, and Teaching of Chinese Characters*, 1–15. Beijing: Beijing Language and Culture University Press.
- Lu, R. (2009a) *Chinese Culture in Globalization: A Multimodal Case Study on Visual Discourse*. Saarbrücken: VDM.
- Lu, R. (2009b) 'On the dual modalities of Chinese characters and a working model for literacy'. In G. Zhang (ed.), *Chinese Language Teaching and Learning: Theories and Practices*, 123–134. London: Cypress Book.
- Machin, D. (2016) *Introduction to Multimodal Analysis*. London: Bloomsbury Academic.
- Masuhara, H. and Tomlinson, B. (2010) 'Applications of the research results for materials development'. In B. Tomlinson and H. Masuhara (eds.), *Research for Materials Development in Language Learning: Evidence for Best Practice*. London: Bloomsbury.
- Matthews, P. (2000) *Oxford Concise Dictionary of Linguistics*. Shanghai: Shanghai Foreign Language Education Press.
- McArthur, T. (1992) *The Oxford Companion to the English Language*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Mirzoeff, N. (1999) *An Introduction to Visual Culture*. London: Routledge.
- Pennycook, A. (2017) 'Translanguaging and semiotic assemblages'. *International Journal of Multilingualism* 14(3): 269–282.
- Pennycook, A. (2018) *Posthumanist Applied Linguistics*. Oxon: Routledge.
- Rowse, J. (2013) *Working with Multimodality: Rethinking Literacy in a Digital Age*. London: Routledge.
- Rundell, M. (ed.) (2007) *Macmillan English Dictionary for Advanced Learners*. Oxford: Palgrave Macmillan.
- Scollon, R. and Scollon, S. (2003) *Discourse in Place: Language in the Material World*. London: Routledge.
- Simonsen, A. (1998) *Teaching a Foreign Language: Principles and Procedures*. Bergen-Sandviken: Fagbokforlaget.
- Street, B. (2012) 'Contexts for literacy work: New literacy studies, multimodality, and the "local and the global"'. In L. Tett, M. Hamilton and J. Crowther (eds.), *More Powerful Literacies*, 31–58. Leicester: NIACE.
- Xu, L. et al. (2008) *International Curriculum for Chinese Language Education*. Beijing: Foreign Language Teaching and Research Press.
- Zhou, X. (2009) *Introduction to Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language*. Beijing: Commerce Press.

The Current Status of CALL for Chinese in the United States¹

Zheng-sheng Zhang

1. One Caveat

It is an understatement of the extreme sort to say that to describe the current state of CALL (Computer-aided language learning) for Chinese in the US is an almost impossible undertaking, for several reasons. The explosive growth of technology in the new century is simply too breathtaking to even stay abreast of, let alone to give a full account of. The field is also staggeringly wide, encompassing diverse areas from general digital resources to dedicated language-learning applications, from cutting-edge research on artificial intelligence to basic tools for improving pronunciation and character learning. Therefore, the following pages can do no more than the following:

- Identifying notable trends in the development of CALL
- Spotlighting key pedagogical issues
- Recommending strategies on the use of CALL
- Providing selected bibliographical references

It should also be borne in mind that this chapter is written from the perspective of a language teacher and a consumer of technology, rather than that of a developer more equipped to deal with the inner workings of technology. Therefore, pedagogical considerations necessarily outweigh technological ones. The discussion is also mostly limited to the new millennium. For earlier periods, several surveys can be found. Zhang (1998) did a thematic survey on the theoretical issues and practice of CALL for Chinese. Bourgerie (2003) provided a review of selected products and an annotated bibliography. Liu (2007) offered another overview. Yao (2009) traced the development of the field since its very beginning. Most recently, Wu (2016) provided an updated review and appraisal.

However difficult it is to describe the current state of the field, this much is clear: with the coming of the digital age, the teaching and learning of Chinese also has had to keep up with the changing times.

2. Two Milestones

The dawning of the new century heralded in a new era in CALL for Chinese. Two milestone events deserve to be singled out for mention, which have made significant contribution to the growth of the field.

Since its first meeting in 2000 at Hamilton College organized by Professor Debao Xu, the bi-annual TCLT conference (Technology and Chinese Language Teaching) has become the main forum for the dissemination of research and the application of technology in the learning and teaching of Chinese. According to Xu (2018), ‘up till TCLT9, 295 institutions from 23 countries and regions have sent over 1000 professionals to attend the conferences and workshops, which have in turn presented 770 plus selected papers in the field and over 40 hands-on workshops on up-to-date new programs and technologies in Chinese language teaching’. This bi-annual conference has also spawned several published conference proceedings, such as Xu et al. (2016).

Second, growing out of the momentum generated by the TCLT conferences, an academic journal dedicated to CALL for Chinese was launched in 2010. The peer-reviewed semiannual online publication *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching (JTCLT)* is the *de facto* counterpart of the *CALICO* (Computer Assisted Language Instruction Consortium) journal for CALL in general. Since its inception, 80 articles on a diverse range of topics have been published. Since 2012, a print supplement *Series in Technology and Chinese Language Teaching in the US* (美国科技与中文教学系列), such as Xu et al. (2012, 2016), has been published by Social Sciences Press of China (中国社会科学出版社).

3. Many Fronts

A sampling of the topics covered in the pages of *JTCLT* shows a lively variety. Almost all current technological fronts have been explored, to wit (alphabetically ordered by topic key words):

Animated cartoons (Lien et al. 2011)
Animation (embodied) on character learning (Lu et al. 2013)
Blackboard (Jiang 2014)
CMC (computer-mediated communication) (Zhang 2016)
Collocation (Guo and Li 2016; Li and Guo 2016)
Computerized assessment (Yao 1995, 2001, 2008)
Concordancer (Chan 2002; Da 2004a)
Corpus retrieval of character and bigram frequencies (Da 2004b)
Database for resultative verb compounds and data visualization (Zhan et al. 2015)
E-dictionaries (Xie 2010a)
E-gloss (Poole et al. 2016)
Games (Liu 2012)
Google Earth/Google Maps for task-based learning (Da 2010)
iBooks Author (Da 2013, Day 2015)
Internet Blogs (Xie 2007)
Internet Chats (Sunaoka 2012)
iPad (Lin and Lien 2012)
Lightboard (Ye 2016)
Measuring CFL text difficulty (Da 2009)

Mobile devices (Chin et al. 2011; Chuang 2016)
 MOOCs (massive open online course) (Lin and Zhang 2014)
 Moodle (Ho 2013; Tsai 2012)
 Podcasting (Chin et al. 2011)
 ‘Second Life’ (Chen 2010; Liu 2010; Cheng et al. 2010)
 Smartphone (Chen 2013)
 Speech recognition (Da 2015)
 Speech technology (Chan 2003)
 Tablet (Liu 2013)
 Treebank in the teaching of Chinese grammar (Zhan 2012)
 Video (Zhang 2013)
 Virtual classroom software selection (Xu 2011)
 Virtual immersive environment (Grant and Huang 2010; Ye et al. 2017; Zheng 1999)
 Voice and stroke animation on character learning (Zhu and Hong 2005).
 Voice annotated text (Wu 2012)
 VoiceThread (audio/video/text group conversation) (Chen 2011; Zhang 2011)
 Wechat (Luo and Yang 2016)
 Weibo (Huang 2012)

The wide range of topics is quite impressive, from the effect of E-gloss and E-dictionaries to that of dual modality input (voice annotation, animation); from online class management platforms (Blackboard, Moodle) to social media (blogs, chats, podcasts, Wechat, Weibo); from online delivered courses (MOOCs) to online collaboration forums (VoiceThread); from mobile devices (smartphone, IPAD, tablets) to virtual environment (‘Second Life’); from speech recognition to Google Earth; from computer-adaptive tests to text complexity measures. In addition to SLA and pedagogical topics, articles on linguistic research are also found, from the use of corpora (concordance, collocation) to the natural language processing algorithm of parsing (treebank).

4. Notable Trends

In the dizzying development that is happening before our very eyes, several trends seem to stand out, reflecting simultaneously the break-neck speed of technological advance and the paradoxical desire for easier access and greater user-friendliness.

Profusion of Media

With the decrease in size and cost and astounding increase in speed and capacity in hardware, it is no longer a luxury to incorporate multiple types of media. As Wu (2016) pointed out, it is not just multimedia that is so impressive, it is ‘multi-modal’, that is the simultaneous integration of a variety of media. Immersive environments such as ‘Second Life’ certainly exemplify the incorporation of ‘wall-to-wall’ media.

Migrating into Cyberspace

Increased cyber-connectivity and the advent of cloud-based platforms is a major step forward toward ‘anytime, anywhere’ access.

Going Mobile

Coupled with cyber-connectivity, the ‘going mobile’ trend has increased access to an unprecedented degree: it now truly is ‘anytime, anywhere’. Apart from being mobile, this is a logical outcome of the continuous trend towards miniaturization: from the moribund language lab consoles and the no longer predominant desktop computers to the ubiquitous laptops and finally to omnipresent mobile devices. As a sign of the times, even the term MALL (Mobile Assisted Language Learning) has been coined.

Standardizing User Interface

One manifestation of greater user-friendliness is the standardization of user interface. The days of typing commands are but a distant memory. Most software apps today sport menu-driven interfaces and are almost uniform in navigation style. Standardization has much reduced the steepness of the learning curve.

For Chinese, in particular, the introduction of the Unicode standard for representing characters renders font compatibility a thing of the past. Increasingly, Chinese is included as a language option in multilingual learning apps, such as: *Duolingo*, *Kahoot!*, *Memrise*, *Pimsleur*, *Rosetta Stone*, and *Transparent Languages*. A side effect of this trend of standardization is ‘monopolization’, which favors larger commercial developers, as it is already beyond the wherewithal of the average language teacher to develop mobile apps by themselves.

Preference for General and Easier to Use Resources

The demands for greater user-friendliness and standardized interface may explain the preference for general and easy to use resources over more specific ones. This preference is evident from the responses by teachers to questions on tech tools in a national survey by Li et al. (2014). It is clear that general resources such as *PPT*, *Google*, and *YouTube* are by far the most frequently used, followed by E-dictionaries. On the other hand, quiz makers, iPad/iPhone apps, social media, blogs, and podcasts are not very often used. Surprisingly, even character animation is not used that much. The preference for the more general and better known is also evident regarding course management systems, according to the same survey. *Blackboard* tops the list (55.2%), *Moodle* a distant second (17.8%) and all others being less than 10 percent (*WebCT*, 8%, *D2L* 4.3%). The same preference is also seen among students. According to Xie (2010a), the E-dictionary resource that is most preferred by students for looking up words is again *Google*.

Open-Access

Along with open-access journals and open-source codes, many CALL resources are now distributed for free. Fewer people are willing to shell out money when so many free resources are available, especially when it is not certain whether a resource you pay for can live up to its promise.

Broadening of Scope

As technology is developing in many directions, CALL has broadened in scope as well, as seen in its increasingly greater inclusiveness. As pointed out in Hubbard (2009), the improvement of learning by CALL can be understood broadly by including the improvement of learning conditions, which naturally includes easier access and more user-friendly interface.

Normalization

Bax (2003) states: ‘A technology has reached its fullest possible effectiveness in language education when it has arrived at the stage of “normalization”, namely when it is used without our being consciously aware of its role as a technology, as a valuable element in the language learning process’. What used to be regarded as novel technology has over time become so commonplace that it may be taken for granted as part of the scenery of the digital age. Xie (2008) cited many examples of normalization from CALL in Chinese. Blackboard, Moodle, and online learning platforms, which are also used across many disciplines, are but some examples.

Greater Acceptance

As technology is ever more omnipresent, it has inevitably gained greater, if at times grudging, acceptance. Take for example the typing of Chinese, which has become increasingly accepted despite lingering misgivings about it by many teachers of Chinese. It may be worth pointing out that the greater acceptance of technology by teachers may have been to some extent due to their students’ easier embrace of it.

5. Unchanging Desiderata

However much technology changes, there seem to be some constants that will remain the same, such as the all-important human elements and the overarching linguistic and pedagogical considerations.

Gentle Learning Curve

The trend towards standardization and the preference for general resources seem to derive from a more fundamental desire for greater ease of use, including a gentle (or non-existing) learning curve. With regard to learning curve, an obvious elephant in the room is the dedicated teacher console found in many language labs without seeing much use, due to the very fact that time needs to be invested to learn it for potentially unclear benefit. Another illustrative case can perhaps be found in the waning fortunes of *Prezi*, the alternative presentation software that came on the scene in 2009. Compared with *PPT*, there is no denying that the newcomer looks much more attractive, with its free form navigation around the virtual desktop. In comparison, with its imposed linear structure, *PPT* looks positively straight-jacketed. However, while *PPT* now seems a ubiquitous presence, *Prezi* has never been popularly adopted. The reason may be the greater learning curve required and more importantly, the fact that the extra effort may not be justified by the gain. In light of this, it is unclear how easy it is for people to embrace virtual environments such as ‘Second Life’, which certainly require an even steeper learning curve, at least at the present time.

As will be recommended in sections 7 and 8, general resources which are geared towards the necessary skill set of digital literacy will fare much better.

The Fitness of the Tool

Technology is only a tool and the choice of tool has to fit the task at hand. An illustrative example of the mismatch between the task and the tool, given in Zhang (1998), is the misuse of speech analysis technology seen in the use of visual comparison of waveforms, ostensibly as

feedback to learner production. Unfortunately, waveforms only transparently convey information of timing and amplitude and not the more important speech characteristics that can only be revealed through the more sophisticated spectrographic analyses.

Another example is the choice between video and audio. Although video requires a higher level of technology, one cannot simply say that it is categorically superior to audio for all applications. The advantage of video, such as rich contextual clues, may in fact serve to distract when attention should be directed to audio only.

Pedagogical Soundness

Along with user-friendliness and the fit between task and tool, the most important overarching concern for the language learner and teacher has to be pedagogical effectiveness. Bax (2003) alerted us to the ‘Sole Agent’ fallacy, which expects technology to be the omnipotent agent that can solve all problems. However technologically advanced we are today, technological know-how still needs to be supported by linguistic informed-ness and pedagogical soundness.

6. Chinese Pedagogy

Despite the trend towards standardized apps for multiple languages, we should not forget that Chinese is a language possessing many special characteristics, which do require special attention. Most obvious are the areas of tones, characters, vocabulary, reading, and grammar.

Tone

Although extremely important for Chinese, the instruction of tones is still less than optimal, with or without the use of technology. Li and Zhang (2016) pointed out two common problems with tonal instruction: ‘One common problem, probably due to the misleading Pinyin tone mark, is the practice of treating the full third tone as basic, while in fact the half third tone is found in most contexts’ (Zhang 2014; Lu and Xie 2004). In fact, the ‘half third tone as basic’ position has become more and more accepted these days in the field of Chinese language teaching. Any respectable CALL effort should be based on this better understanding of the third tone. Another problem that Li and Zhang pointed out is that in general, most attention has been focused on tones in isolation while not as much attention has been given to tone changes and tones in connected speech, a good command of which is essential for native-like pronunciation.

On the technical front, technological advances do have the potential to make tonal instruction and practice easier and more effective. Tonal identification practice can now be done rather easily, as exemplified by one pinyin practice site (<http://pinyinpractice.com/wangzhi/>). As will be shown in Section 8 on repurposing, production of tones can also be aided with the pitch-tracking feature of speech analysis programs such as *WaveSurfer*, which can provide instant feedback.

Character

Character instruction is justifiably one of the earliest applications of CALL. Animation started to be used very early on (Yao and Peterson 1986). However, the available resources are quite uneven in their linguistic and pedagogical sophistication. While there are increasingly more apps with good use of multimedia based on an accurate understanding of the nature of Chinese characters, there is still no shortage of materials that perpetuate the ‘pictographic/ideographs myth’

(DeFrancis 1984). Although the graphic bulk and functional core of Chinese characters lies in their phonetic components (Myers 1996; Zhang 2009), they tend to receive much less attention than the (semantic) radicals.

On the technical side, technological advances also have the potential to make the teaching and learning of characters much easier and more effective. The teaching of stroke order has become more straightforward, with animation such as offered by *Pleco*, *eStroke*, and *Arch Chinese* (www.archchinese.com/). Many also include a pedagogically useful feature of highlighting character components. Although not originally intended, intensive character recognition is built right into computer typing with phonetic input, due to the need to differentiate homophonic characters. As will be discussed in section 7 on general resources, typing has many other benefits for the learning of characters as well. As will be mentioned in section 8 on creative repurposing, character writing can also receive instant feedback from the handwriting input option of apps such as *Pleco* and *IFly*.

Vocabulary

It is understandable that most resources are available in this area, as vocabulary does deserve special attention, not the least because it is the basic building block of language and Chinese shares few cognates with other languages. They may also be easier to develop by using simple matching. One has to be impressed by the sheer number of apps with ‘Quiz’ in their names (and vocabulary quizzes in substance): *Quia*, *Quizizz*, *Quizlet Live*, *Quizalize*, *Quizlet*, *QuizStar*, *Quiz ME*. Simple as they may seem, they can be problematic if not based on sound understanding of the structural characteristics of Chinese word-formation.

One basic issue is whether the character or the word should be the basic unit. Traditional materials for native speakers tend to opt for the former. After all, the time-honored format 看图识字 ‘look at character and learn’ is character-based. Materials for foreigners more commonly choose the whole word, possibly influenced by how vocabulary is taught in foreign languages. For teaching Chinese as a foreign language, however, neither seems sufficient by itself. The character-based approach fails to draw attention to the fact that meanings of multi-syllabic words are not simple sums of those of the component characters; on the other hand, the word-based approach renders the internal structure of multi-syllable word less than transparent. An important but under-appreciated fact is that most Chinese words are compounds with recurring components, which can be used not only to illuminate the internal structure of the word but also to relate different compounds sharing the same components. The more sensible approach therefore is to attend to both the larger word and its components. For example, we can regard the word as the unit of meaning and sentence construction, but at the same time draw attention to the components for the benefit of greater transparency and interconnectedness between words, which will be helpful for both comprehension and memorization.

Another issue is the degree of depth and contextualization. Many vocabulary drills suffer the same problem as crude flashcards, which is their shallowness and absence of context. Typically, the target word is paired with an English gloss and the main mode of learning is nothing more than simple exposure, at best with spaced repetition. There is no multi-level analysis of either the word or the character; neither is there any attempt to place it into larger contexts. It is thus worth acknowledging those that do place a premium on context. One example is the *Linkit* system linking multiple levels of linguistic components (Shei and Hsieh 2012). Also worth mentioning is the rightly well-received multilingual *ClozeMaster* (www.clozemaster.com/), where a complete sentence together with translation is included to accompany the blanked-out target word. In *JCloze*, part of the venerable, no frill authoring template *Hot Potatoes* (<https://hotpot.>

uvic.ca/), the teacher also needs to include the sentential frame that best contextualizes the target word.

Vocabulary learning could also be made more varied. The gamified *Kahoot!* (or *Socratize*, *Memrise*), engaging and popular though it no doubt is, should not be the sole option available. There is much room for creativity in this area. For example, there seem to be few apps for the popular pastime of crossword puzzles for Chinese. A worthy exception is the *JCross* module in *Hot Potatoes*, which allows the teacher to whip together a crossword puzzle in no time at all, especially by using its automatic layout feature. It can use either pinyin or characters, the former better suited for words and the latter for longer phrases and sentences. One pedagogical benefit of crossword puzzles is that the intersections of rows and columns serve as *de facto* built-in feedback; it is also clear that feedback in e-crossword puzzles can be more immediate than printed versions.

Reading

Reading is one of the harder skills in Chinese, due to its linguistic characteristics, the writing system, and the printing convention. In this connection, NLP (Natural Language Processing) can spotlight blind spots that may be overlooked by native speaker teachers and researchers (Li and Zhang 2016). In reading research and practice, much attention has been paid to high-level concerns, such as strategies (top-down vs. bottom-up), while little attention has been given to low-level difficulties (except for character recognition). Due to the convention of leaving no space between words, one basic complexity with processing Chinese text is the identification of word boundaries, also known as the problem of segmentation. The computer also has to struggle with the identification of out of vocabulary (OOV) items (abbreviations, names, and translations of foreign names) that cannot be found in dictionaries. Finally, the paucity of grammatical markers makes it hard to identify parts of speech and to parse (especially long) sentences. Do CFL learners have an easier time than computers? Some examples from the author's classes show that even advanced level learners can have significant problems with segmentation. 发展中国家 was translated by some as 'develop China home' with the wrong segmentation 发展|中国|家; 前日首相 was translated as 'previous day prime minister' with the wrong segmentation 前日|首相; 8次大陆 在林洋港 8次大陆 寻根 was translated as '8 sub-continent', with the wrong segmentation 8|次大陆.

CALL tools therefore should address all these difficulties, low as well as high-level. Apart from providing glosses of meaning and sound on demand, they should also help to segment contiguous strings of characters and ideally also provide structural cues to help parse sentences. While it is doubtful whether all this has been accomplished, there is no question CALL resources for reading are getting much better. Some of the rightly popular apps include *Decipher Chinese*, *The Chairman's Bao* and *Du Chinese*. All of them provide meaning glosses on demands, audio/pinyin for words and sentences, and segmentation into words either explicitly or inexplicitly by way of word glosses.

Grammar

Grammar, a central component of language acquisition, has been a harder area for CALL to make significant headway, as it requires more thoughtful design, let alone more sophisticated technology. Grammatical practice should at least aim at two outcomes, i.e. to draw attention to the structural elements being taught and to induce output that is grammatically sound. Take for example word order, a fundamental aspect of language production. Ideally, CALL tools should highlight the characteristics of Chinese word order and allow the learner to construct

multi-word chunks and provide timely feedback. But CALL resources can easily fall far short of this ideal. Some are no more than e-versions of grammar books; some grossly miss the point by adhering to multiple-choice matching between English and Chinese, requiring comprehension rather than production.

While technical limitations may hamper more ambitious attempts, some simple exercises can be designed without requiring advanced technology. For example, Cloze (fill-in-blanks) exercises can focus on selected elements, thus helping learners to ‘notice’ grammatical forms, which is deemed crucial in the acquisition of grammar (Schmidt 1995; Ellis 1997). Based on simple matching, non-open-ended sentence construction is also possible, as seen in *Duolingo* and the *JMix* module of *Hot Potatoes*. A list of scrambled elements can be given, accompanied by English translation for the intended meaning. All the learner needs to do is to rearrange the elements to form a sentence that fits the given meaning. Although feedback is still limited to simple right and wrong, this format does require the construction of sentences, which the multiple-choice format cannot accomplish.

7. Tapping General Resources

Though ‘Virtual Reality’, the cutting-edge frontier of CALL, holds much fascination for all of us, we need to be mindful of the fact that it may be some time before it is part of the normalized learning environment. While we should always keep an eye on the future, we should not forget to tap the full potential of basic general resources. One example of the less than optimal use of basic technology is how audio is commonly delivered. Many textbooks still use the outdated CD format for the delivery of audio. The track by track linear access of CD (admittedly better than tapes) is far less user-friendly than sentence size audioclips embeddable in such common software programs such as *PPT* and *Word*. In what follows, three basic digital literacy skills will be used to exemplify the use of general resources.

Typing

The ability to type Chinese has heralded in a new age with profound impact and should indeed be considered a game-changer. While there are admittedly skeptics, typing Chinese is becoming a part of digital literacy. Many of the difficulties in producing characters have become outdated artifacts tied to the handwriting mode. Typing reduces the complex task of writing characters to two simpler ones, phonetic spelling and character recognition, both independently needed for learning Chinese. Zhang (2002) summarized the 10 benefits of typing Chinese, which definitely outweigh its obvious disadvantage of weaker ability to handwrite characters:

1. Strengthening pinyin/pronunciation skills (with phonetic input);
2. Strengthening association between sound and shape of characters;
3. Strengthening character recognition through necessary homonym selection;
4. Increasing awareness of homophony through homophone selection;
5. Increasing awareness of phonetic components in characters (characters with same phonetic components tend to appear together on homophone lists);
6. Increasing awareness of the concept of wordhood (using multi-syllabic words yields higher accuracy/efficiency);
7. Lessening the difference between traditional and simplified characters;
8. Lowering psychological pressure (especially in test situations);
9. Typing is a necessary skill for messaging and online communication;
10. Ease of editing, searching, and archiving;

Despite the moniker ‘pen-less Chinese’ given by Xu and Jen (2005), typing characters does not have to completely do away with producing characters by hand, which many feel is still necessary not only for its own sake, but also for gaining intimate knowledge of the details of characters or even the more basic ability to recognize them. Typing can be used in tandem with handwriting characters, in selected situations such as test-taking, when there is considerable time pressure and priority is on fluency rather than character production. Nor does it have to be done right from the beginning; it can be introduced only after students have acquired sufficient knowledge of the structure of characters through handwriting.

Naturally, the proliferation of homophone substitution errors often associated with typing Chinese should be addressed. Reminding students to type in multi-syllabic words instead of single characters should go a long way in reducing the number of such errors. At the same time, more attention can be directed to the comparison and contrast of homophonous characters, turning a negative situation into another teachable moment.

Use of Corpora

In recent years, language corpora, large collections of authentic language texts, have mushroomed and drastically increased in size. Some better-known corpora for Chinese include *BCC* (Beijing Language and Culture University Corpus), *CCL* (Beijing University Center for Chinese Linguistics Corpus), and *LCMC* (Lancaster Corpus for Mandarin Chinese). They either have their own online interfaces or are hosted by such common platforms as *CQPweb* at Beijing Foreign Studies University (<http://111.200.194.212/cqp/>). Their capabilities can be more fully exploited with concordancers such as *Antconc*, *TextStat*, and *Wordsmith*, which have special searching, statistical, and graph-presentation features (Chan 2002; Da 2004a).

Not only can corpora be used for theoretical research, for example, for finding out the combinatorial probabilities of characters (Da 2004b), they can also be used for practical purposes, for example, in the preparation of teaching materials. One particularly useful pedagogical application is to show collocation (co-occurrence) patterns, i.e. what words a given word can combine with, such as the possible objects for a verb (Guo and Li 2016; Li and Guo 2016). Based on real-world language usages, they can be more accurate than dictionaries, which can be limited by the dictionary-compiler’s own intuition. They can also help the learner acquire idiomatic usages, which are partly reflected in co-occurrence possibilities.

Googling

While Googling has become such a common routine, we should not overlook its potential for language learning. In a sense, the database behind *Google* is perhaps the largest corpus in the world and can be used for some of the same purposes, such as verifying usages and identifying co-occurrence patterns. The number of *Google* hits, for example, can be used to determine the idiomaticity of multi-word phrasal combinations (Shei 2008). While *Google* may be less structured than specifically constructed corpora, it is much richer in content in addition to its larger size. In addition to texts, *Google* also includes images and video, which are immensely useful for teaching.

While the ability to Google may be taken for granted, there are in fact tips and tricks concerning *Google* searches that are especially useful for language learning/teaching purposes. Some of these are less than obvious:

1. Noncontiguous multiple search terms can be used to skip irrelevant intervening material that may restrict the scope of search. This is especially useful with sentence patterns that consist of noncontiguous elements, which abound in Chinese (e.g. 连...都...);

2. The longer the search terms, the more specific the result; conversely, the shorter the terms, the wider the casted net (e.g. monosyllabic 车 will bring up all types of vehicles);
3. When the search targets are not Chinese texts, other languages such as English can be used. For example, images illustrating the ‘一边...一边...’ pattern can be obtained with the English keyword ‘multi-tasking’;
4. Even if Chinese texts are sought, it is worth trying other languages to bring up more hits. For example, using the English search terms ‘Chinese menu’ will surely bring up menus written in Chinese.
5. Using traditional characters can avoid bringing up Japanese sites, while still able to retrieve pages with simplified characters.

8. Creative Repurposing

The trends towards generalization and standardization suggest that a sensible stance for the savvy language teacher in regard to technology is to repurpose the many free, widely available general resources, both high and low tech, that are originally intended for more general purposes. The key of course is how to identify the pedagogical useful function out of the many in these general resources. Some examples of repurposing are given below.

Pitch-Tracking Software for Teaching Tones

For linguistic research and speech engineering, various speech analysis applications have been developed. Especially worthy of mention is *WaveSurfer*, the speech analysis software from Sweden. Although not intended for language teaching, let alone for teaching Chinese, its pitch-tracking feature makes it an effective tool for giving feedback to the production of tones. The feedback is clear and immediate. The present author has used it to good effect, yielding instant improvement in student production. Not only free for download (www.speech.kth.se/wave-surfer/), its user interface is also very user-friendly.

Speech Recognition

The advanced technology of speech recognition, used variously for voice input and human-computer interface, can also be repurposed. While good at a fixed set of voice commands, personal assistants such as *Siri* from Apple may fall short as fully intelligent conversation partners. But we should not dismiss them right away, as they may be repurposed for less challenging uses, such as checking pronunciation, as speech can be recognized only when the minimal threshold of accuracy is met. The latest rising star in voice input systems is *iFLY* (讯飞) from China, with its high accuracy and even the feature of adding punctuation marks automatically.

For this repurposed use, pedagogical thoughtfulness is also crucial. It is important to bear in mind that as the size of input goes up, the tolerance for inaccuracy goes up as well, due to the increasing number of contextual cues. Therefore, if the objective is maximum accuracy, smaller units such as the single syllable should be chosen.

OCR

The advent of OCR (optical character recognition) is undoubtedly a huge blessing to Chinese with its non-alphabetic writing system. It proves to be a game-changer for dictionary lookup, which is notoriously laborious and a headache for learners and native speakers alike. It is now

one of the most attractive features in dictionary apps like *Pleco*, the most popular mobile app for learners of Chinese. More generally, the ability to turn printed pages of Chinese into e-text makes research and material development much easier and faster.

Handwriting Recognition

Computers have become quite good at handwriting recognition. Due to their lack of proficiency in using pinyin, many people in China still choose to handwrite characters for computer applications. Just as voice-input can be repurposed to check pronunciation accuracy, handwritten input can also be repurposed for checking the accuracy of character writing. It is worth noting that some of these systems are sensitive to stroke order, which has clear pedagogical implications.

9. Concluding Remarks

Technology is developing at a dizzying speed. Things that were cutting-edge just a few short years ago are now rather commonplace, such as optical and voice recognition, virtual environments and even intelligent interface. Its implication for CALL is inestimable.

In addition to outlining the most important trends in the recent development of CALL for Chinese, the main focus of this short chapter has been on how to face this unprecedented situation with an open yet judicious mindset. One point that has been underscored is this: however rapidly technology may change, pedagogical soundness is a constant that will not change. We should never lose sight of the overall purpose of the whole enterprise, which is to serve the needs of language learning and teaching, effectively, and in a user-friendly and cost-effective manner. Furthermore, despite the recent trend towards generalization and standardization in delivery format, the particularity of the Chinese language should not be forgotten. Any CALL tool worth its salt will need to address the unique challenges of Chinese, such as tones, characters, and grammar. A sound understanding of the structure of Chinese has to be the basis on which CALL effort should be grounded. Like effective language pedagogy, CALL is truly a collaborative enterprise, no less dependent on the integration of the relevant fields.

One practical counsel that has been suggested is not to focus attention exclusively on the latest in technology but rather to prioritize making maximum use of existing technology and even repurposing general resources, be they high or low tech. General resources such as typing, online search, voice, and handwriting input should be exploited more fully.

As mentioned at the beginning, this short chapter cannot do justice to the vast field of CALL for Chinese. Many questions have to be left unaddressed. One of the basic questions concerns the efficacy of CALL, which by no means should be assumed without question. There have been such inquiries of course. For example, Poole and Sung (2016) tries to answer the question: how effective are e-glosses? The answer is not as straightforward as one might expect. Xie (2010a) shows that students' preference of e-dictionaries may not always agree with those of teachers and developers. As technology is used more and more, questions about its efficacy will no doubt become increasingly more important.

Note

- 1 The reference to US here is due more to the author's location and whatever potential limitation results from it rather than any claim about substantive difference between regions of the world. In our increasingly interconnected world enabled by technology, geographical differences may not be as important.

References

English References

- Bax, S. (2003) 'Call-past, present, and future'. *System: An International Journal of Educational Technology and Applied Linguistics* 31: 1.
- Bourgerie, D. (2003) 'Computer assisted language learning for Chinese: A survey and annotated bibliography'. *Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association* 38: 2.
- Chan, M. (2002) 'Concordancers and concordances: Tools for Chinese language teaching and research'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 37: 2.
- Chan, M. (2003) 'The digital age and speech technology for Chinese language teaching and learning'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 38: 2.
- Chen, D. (2010) 'Enhancing the learning of Chinese with second life'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 1: 1.
- Chen, D. (2013) 'What can a smartphone offer to learners of Chinese?' (智能手机能为中文学习者提供什么?). *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 4: 2.
- Cheng, H., Zhan, H. and Tsai, A. (2010) 'Integrating second life into a Chinese language teacher training program: A pilot study'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 1: 1.
- Chuang, H. (2016) 'Mobile assisted language learning APPs for the Chinese classroom'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 7: 2.
- Da, J. (2004a) 'A web-based concordancer for Chinese language teaching and research'. Paper presented at the 2004 Annual Conference of the Chinese Language Teachers Association. Chicago.
- Da, J. (2004b) 'A corpus-based study of character and bigram frequencies in Chinese e-texts and its implications for Chinese language instruction'. In P. Zhang, T. Xie and J. Xu (eds.), *Proceedings of the 4th International Conference on New Technologies in Teaching and Learning Chinese*. Beijing: The Tsinghua University Press.
- Da, J. (2009) 'A quantitative approach to measuring CFL text difficulty'. Paper presented at the 2009 Annual Conference of the Chinese Language Teachers Association. San Diego.
- Da, J. (2010) 'Using Google Earth and Google Maps for task-based activities and cultural knowledge'. Paper presented at the Sixth International Conference and Workshops on Technology and Chinese Language Teaching in the 21st Century. Columbus, Ohio.
- Da, J. (2013) 'Developing interactive multimedia CFL learning materials with iBooks Author'. Paper presented at the 2013 Annual Conference of the Chinese Language Teachers Association. Orlando.
- Day, S. (2015) 'An introduction to using iBooks Author 2.0 and creating teaching materials for Chinese language instruction'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 6: 1.
- DeFrancis, J. (1984) *The Chinese Language: Fact and Fantasy*. Honolulu, HA: University of Hawaii Press.
- Ellis, R. (1997) *SLA Research and Language Teaching*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Grant, S. and Huang, H. (2010) 'The integration of an online 3D virtual learning environment into formal classroom-based undergraduate Chinese language and culture curriculum'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 1: 1.
- Guo, S. and Li, S. (2016). 'Supporting collocation learning and teaching with a Chinese collocation profile database'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 7: 2.
- Hubbard, P. (ed.) (2009) *Computer Assisted Language Learning: Vol 1* (Critical Concepts in Linguistics). London: Routledge.
- Li, S. and Guo, S. (2016) 'Collocation analysis tools for Chinese collocation studies'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 7: 1.
- Li, Y., Wen, X. and Xie, T. (2014) 'CLTA 2012 survey of college-level Chinese language programs in North America'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 49: 1.
- Li, Y. and Zhang, Z. (2016) 'CFL for university and college students: Curriculum and instruction'. In Ruan, Jiening, Leung, Cynthia and Zhang, Jie (eds.), *Perspectives on Chinese as a Foreign Language Education*. Berlin: Springer.
- Lin, C. and Zhang, Y. (2014) 'MOOCs and Chinese language education'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 5: 2.

- Lu, M., Hallman, G. and Black, J. (2013) 'Chinese character learning: Using embodied animations in initial stages'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 4: 2.
- Luo, H. and Yang, C. (2016) 'Using WeChat in teaching L2 Chinese: An exploratory study'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 7: 2.
- Myers, J. (1996) 'Prosodic structure in Chinese characters'. Poster presented at the Fifth International Conference on Chinese Linguistics, National Tsing Hua University, Taiwan.
- Poole, F. and Sung, K. (2016) 'A preliminary study on the effects of an E-Gloss tool on incidental vocabulary learning when reading Chinese as a foreign language'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 51: 3.
- Schmidt, R. (1995) 'Consciousness and foreign language learning: A tutorial on the role of attention and awareness'. In R. Schmidt (ed.), *Attention and Awareness in Foreign Language Teaching and Learning (Technical Report No. 9)*. Honolulu: University of Hawai'i at Manoa.
- Shei, C. (2008) 'Discovering the hidden treasure on the internet: Using Google to uncover the veil of phraseology'. *Computer Assisted Language Learning* 21: 1.
- Shei, C. and Hsieh, H. (2012) 'Linkit: A CALL system for learning Chinese characters, words, and phrases'. *Computer Assisted Language Learning* 25: 1.
- Wu, Y. (2012) 'Using external text vocalization to enhance reading development among beginning level Chinese learners'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 47: 1.
- Wu, Y. (2016) 'Technology in CFL education'. In Ruan, Jie, Leung, Cynthia and Zhang, Jie (eds.), *Perspectives on Chinese as a Foreign Language Education*. Berlin: Springer.
- Xu, D. (2018). Email communication about future hosts of TCLT conference.
- Xu, D., Da, J. and Liu, S. (eds.) (2016) *Proceedings of The 9th International Conference & Workshops on Technology & Chinese Language Teaching*. China: China Social Sciences Press.
- Xu, D., Da, J., Liu, S., Jiang, S. and Zhang, P. (2012) *Technology and Chinese Language Teaching in the US—2012*. Beijing: Chinese Social Sciences Press.
- Xu, D., Da, J., Liu, S., Jiang, S. and Zhang, P. (2016) *Technology and Chinese Language Teaching in the US—2016*. Beijing: Chinese Social Sciences Press.
- Xu, P. and Jen, T. (2005) "'Penless" Chinese language learning: A computer-assisted approach'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 40: 2.
- Yao, T. (1995) 'A Computer-Adaptive test for reading Chinese (CATRC): A preliminary report'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 30: 1.
- Yao, T. (2009) 'The current status of Chinese CALL in the United States'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 44: 1.
- Yao, T. and Peterson, M. (1986) 'Chinese character tutor: An example of Chinese language instruction using personal computers'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 21: 2.
- Ye, W. (2016) 'Lightboard and Chinese language instruction' ('光板'与对外汉语教学). *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 7: 2.
- Zhang, H. (2014) 'The third tone: Allophones, Sandhi rules and pedagogy'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 49: 1.
- Zhang, S. (2016) 'Learning through a CMC-Based tandem project with native speakers: A descriptive study of beginning CFL learners'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 7: 2.
- Zhang, Z. (1998) 'CALL for Chinese: Issues and practice'. *Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association* 33: 1.
- Zhang, Z. (2002) "'Writing" characters using the computer'. *Proceedings of the Third International Conference on Chinese Pedagogy*, Nanjing.
- Zhang, Z. (2009) 'Myth, reality and character instruction in the 21st century'. *Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association* 44: 2.
- Zhu, Y. and Hong, W. (2005) 'Effects of digital voiced pronunciation and stroke sequence animation on character memorization'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 40: 3.

Chinese References

- Chen, J. 蘇芳儀 (2011). 'VoiceThread 應用於中文教學的幾個例子' (Application of VoiceThread in Chinese teaching and learning: Some examples). 科技与中文教学 (*Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching*) 2: 1.

- Chin, K., Lin, C. and Chan, W. 陈桂月、林琼瑶、曾伟明 (2011) ‘移动学习—播客华语辅助教学初探’ (Mobile learning—podcasting for Chinese language learning). *科技与中文教学(Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 2: 2.
- Da, J. 笪骏 (2015) ‘语音识别技术在中文教学中的应用:一堂汉语拼音练习课的启示’ (The Application of speech recognition technology in Chinese language learning: What can be learned from a Pinyin lab session). *科技与中文教学(Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 6: 1.
- Ho, T. 韩彤宇 (2013) ‘网络教学平台 Moodle 在中级汉语听说课程中的应用及效果’ (The application and effectiveness of Moodle—An e-learning platform for intermediate Chinese speaking and listening course). *科技与中文教学(Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 4: 2.
- Huang, Y. 黄毓之 (2012) ‘支架式反向教学设计: 以微博为例’ (Scaffold with backward design: A Weibo perspective). *科技与中文教学(Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 3: 1.
- Jiang, S. 姜松 (2014) ‘Blackboard Learn 平台上初级汉语网上课的实践与探索’ (Practice and exploration of the Blackboard Learn platform in teaching Chinese online for beginners). *科技与中文教学(Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 5: 1.
- Lien, Y., Lin, C. and Chiu, C. 连育仁、林金锡、邱贵发 (2011) ‘活力教师: 卡通与对外汉语教学’ (Animated teaching: Using cartoons in teaching Chinese as a foreign language). *科技与中文教学(Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 2: 1.
- Lin, Lien 林金锡、連育仁 (2012) ‘運用 iPad 進行中文教學’ Teaching and learning Chinese with an iPad. *科技与中文教学(Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 3: 2.
- Liu, P. (2007) ‘電腦科技和汉语教学回顾及展望’ (Computer technology and the teaching of Chinese: Retrospective and prospect). *美國中文教師學會學報 (Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association)* 42: 3.
- Liu, S. 刘士娟 (2010) ‘Second Life 及其在中文教学中的应用’ (Second life and its application in Chinese teaching and learning). *科技与中文教学(Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 1: 1.
- Liu, S. 刘士娟 (2012) ‘网络游戏与中文教学’ (Online games in Chinese teaching and learning). *科技与中文教学(Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 3: 1.
- Liu, S. 刘士娟 (2013) ‘平板电脑与中文教学’ (Tablets and Chinese language teaching and learning). *科技与中文教学(Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 4: 1.
- Lu, B. and Xie, T. 陆丙甫、谢天蔚 (2004) ‘对外汉语教学的经济原则’ (The economic principles in teaching Chinese as a foreign language). *汉语学习. (Hanyu Xuexi)*. Jilin: Yanbian University Press. 4:50–55.
- Sunaoka 砂冈和子 (2012) ‘远程汉语课多语言聊天室的教学效果’ (Effects of multilingual chatting in Chinese distance learning). *科技与中文教学(Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 3: 1.
- Tsai, Y. 蔡雅雯 (2012) ‘以 Moodle 为教学辅助的短期汉语情境会话教学设计’ (Instructional design of a short-term CFL situational conversation course based on Moodle). *科技与中文教学(Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 3: 2.
- Xie, T. 谢天蔚 (2007) ‘博客、维基、网播与中文教学’ (Blog, Wiki, podcasting and learning Chinese language). *美國中文教師學會學報(Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association)* 42: 1.
- Xie, T. 谢天蔚 (2008) ‘电脑教学日常化是必由之路’ (Normalization of CALL is the only way forward). 第六届中文电化教学国际研讨会发言稿. 韩国又松大学 (Speech at the Sixth International Symposium of Call for Chinese. Woosong Univerisity, Korea).
- Xie, T. 谢天蔚 (2010a) ‘電腦詞典在中文教學中的應用’ (Application of E-dictionaries in Chinese Language Teaching). *科技与中文教学(Journal of Chinese Language Teachers Association)*, 45: 3
- Xie, T. 谢天蔚 (2010b) ‘在虚拟世界进行汉语教学的工具’ (Tools for teaching Chinese in the virtual world). *科技与中文教学(Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 1: 1.
- Xu, D. 许德宝 (2011) ‘网络参与式学习工具的评测与虚拟课堂软件的选择标准’ (The evaluation of web participatory learning tools and the criteria for selecting virtual classroom software). *科技与中文教学(Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 2: 2.
- Yao, T. 姚道中 (2001) ‘網上電腦自適中文閱讀測試簡介’ (An Introduction to WebCATRC). In Shi-chang Hsin (ed.), *第二屆全球華文網路教育研討會論文集 (Proceedings of the Second International Conference on Internet Chinese Education)*, Taipei.

- Yao, T. 姚道中 (2008) 'AP中文与电脑测试' (AP Chinese and computer assessment). In Zhang Pu, Xu Juan and Gan Ruiyuan (eds.), *Advancements and Insights of Digitized Chinese Teaching and Learning*. Beijing: Tsinghua University Press.
- Ye, W., Liu, S. and Song, F. 叶为兵、刘士娟、宋飞 (2017) '虚拟现实技术的历史、现状及其在语言教育中的应用' (History and current state of virtual reality technology and its application in language education). *科技与中文教学 (Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 4: 2.
- Zhan, W. 詹卫东 (2012) '树库在汉语语法辅助教学中的应用初探' (The application of treebank to assist Chinese grammar instruction: A preliminary investigation) The application of treebank to assist Chinese grammar instruction: A preliminary investigation. *科技与中文教学 (Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 3: 2.
- Zhan, Weidong., Ma, Teng., Tian, Jun. and Sunaoka, Kazuko 詹卫东、马腾、田骏、砂岡和子 (2015) '汉语述补结构数据库的构建及其可视化研究' (Development of an online database for Chinese resultative verb compounds and its application based on data visualization technology). *科技与中文教学 (Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 6: 1.
- Zhang, P. 张霓 (2011) '利用VoiceThread 提升语言技能—注重能力表现的活动设计' (Using VoiceThread to boost proficiency development: Performance-based activity design). *科技与中文教学 (Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 2: 1.
- Zhang, P. 张霓 (2013) '利用视频短片促进高级表达技能的获得' (Using video to promote the acquisition of advanced proficiency). *科技与中文教学 (Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching)* 4: 2.
- Zheng, Y. 郑艳群 (1999) '虚拟现实技术和语言教学环境' (Virtual reality technology and language teaching environments). *世界汉语教学 (Chinese Teaching in the World)* 48: 2.

Using Technology to Learn to Speak Chinese

Lijing Shi and Ursula Stickler

Introduction

Speaking is the most important and rewarding aspect of language learning (Nunan 1991) as it enables a learner to directly communicate with others using the target language in real situations. It is widely accepted that speaking Chinese is a particular challenge for those who are learning Chinese as a foreign language (CFL). However, the research on how to help CFL learners to improve their speaking skills remains limited in two senses: First, it is under-researched in terms of quantity. For example, there is no article on developing speaking skills in a recently published book on teaching and learning Chinese in the context of UK universities (Lu 2017). Second, the existing publications on CFL speaking appear to focus on one sub speaking skill, i.e. phonetic acquisition. In a large-scale literature review of four leading CFL research journals in Mainland China, Ma et al. (2017) found 44 articles on phonetic acquisition compared to 116 on lexical and grammatical development. Hence, for investigating technology use in aid of developing Chinese speaking skills we may need to look beyond studies published in the area of CFL for information and inspiration.

Pronunciation is often the focus of research on speaking, however, speaking is not limited to pronunciation accuracy. Levelt (1989) considers speaking performance from three angles: accuracy (pronunciation and grammar), fluency and complexity. In the context of second language (L2) teaching, Goh and Burns (Goh and Burns 2012: 53) plead for a holistic approach to teaching L2 speaking. Although they mainly look at teaching L2 English speaking in classrooms, their framework, which divides L2 speaking competences into core speaking skills, knowledge of language, and discourse and communication strategies, can be usefully borrowed to consider the development of CFL speaking skills in a wider perspective.

This chapter will first briefly discuss the common difficulties experienced by CFL learners and then present how technology has been used to help CFL learners to develop speaking skills. To delineate technological progress, we will follow the framework proposed by Warschauer (2000) in the form of three stages of Computer Assisted Language Learning (CALL), and the nomenclature suggested by Bax (2003) in his description of normalization of technology in language education. Warschauer's stages can be used to demonstrate how different skills are served best by different types of technology that also adhere to particular pedagogies of the time. Based

on Bax' critique, we will look at different ways in which technology can help learner's speaking skills when they are seen as an open, dynamic, and complex process, i.e. taking a holistic approach to the teaching and learning of speaking enhanced with technology that has been normalized and multiple technologies that can be used depending on purpose and context.

We will then present our own model of how technology plays together with teaching skills and authentic input to support the learning of Chinese; and conclude that the use of technology to learn to speak Chinese should be learner-centered, context-specific, and integrative, which also means that teachers need to adjust their roles flexibly and be aware of the affordances and pitfalls offered by different technologies. Throughout this chapter we will use the term technology (or technologies) to mean ICTs—Information and Communication Technologies—including software, such as apps and programs; hardware, such as mobile phones and tablets; and digital tools, such as smartboards and clickers, interchangeably.

The Problem of Speaking Chinese

The two most commonly mentioned difficulties for CFL learners are Chinese characters and tones or pronunciations, but more research focuses on developing learners' reading/writing skills than on developing their speaking skills. The reasons behind such discrepancy is echoing with the research of speaking skills in general, simply because speaking skills have multiple layers which are harder to master and less straightforward to investigate. As Burns states: 'Speaking is a highly complex and dynamic skill that involves the use of several simultaneous processes—cognitive, physical and socio-cultural—and a speaker's knowledge and skills have to be activated rapidly in real-time' (Burns 2013: 166).

For teaching purposes, Goh and Burns (Goh and Burns 2012: 59) divided 'core speaking skills' into four elements:

- 1) Pronunciation: Produce the sounds of the target language at the segmental and suprasegmental level
- 2) Speech function: Perform a precise communicative function or speech act (e.g. request, express)
- 3) Interaction management: Regulate communications or discussions during interactions
- 4) Discourse organization: Create extended discourse in various spoken genres according to socioculturally appropriate conventions of language

(Goh and Burns 2012: 59)

If we look at the challenges of speaking Chinese, we can add the difficulties of tones and the cultural distance to the usual difficulties faced by any language learner (e.g. anxiety, lack of authentic conversation opportunity, lack of socio-pragmatic competence or cultural understanding).

First, at an individual character level, each Chinese character is a single syllable. A Chinese syllable consists of three constituents: the initial, the final, and the tone (Chao 1948, 1972). There are single or compound finals. For many European learners, particularly English monolingual speakers, the most difficult Chinese initials include: /j/, /q/, /x/, /z/, /c/, /s/, /zh/, /ch/, /sh/. Many of them cannot even hear the differences between /j/, /q/, /x/ when they start learning Mandarin. The most difficult vowel for them is /ü/. Learners also often confuse the Chinese vowel *e* (which is close to the sound /ə/ as in shirt) with an English *e* (pronounced as /i/ in bee).

In contrast to European languages, Chinese is a tonal language which implies that the meaning changes if the tone changes even if the pronunciation (the combination of initial and final) remains the same. There are five tones in Mandarin Chinese, first tone to fourth tone, plus a

neutral tone. Research shows that English-speaking learners find the second tone and the third tone more difficult than the first tone and the fourth tone (Yang 2014). Another common tonal difficulty for CFL learners is tone sandhi. For example, in natural Chinese speech the third tone it is not necessarily a falling-rising tone but rather more of an underlying low tone (Shih 1997: 81). At phrase-level, some beginners use English intonation to map their tonal production, for example, saying *gàosū* instead of *gàosù* (to tell).

Fluency is more difficult to measure than pronunciation accuracy. Current psycholinguistic research views L2 fluency as a reflection of a running cognitive speech production process. Peltonen (2017) points out that existing research on L2 fluency has ‘predominantly used monologue samples as data and examined fluency mainly with temporal measures (i.e. the amount and speed of talk and pausing), while less is known about how fluency is maintained in interaction’ (2017: 1). Fluency is not only the actual speech rate (pruned and unpruned) and the number of pauses within a given time, but is also related to the listener’s perception (Sato 2014). Adding this level of complexity makes research into L2 fluency even more difficult.

Experienced CFL teachers often observe that learners struggle to balance between pronunciation accuracy and speech fluency. It is common for learners to either speak with a higher level of pronunciation accuracy but at a slower speed, or to speak fluently but without hitting the tones at the right pitch or mastering certain initials/finals. This is known as trade-off between accuracy and fluency in L2 speaking research (Skehan 2009). Such a phenomenon demonstrates the high cognitive demand for a learner to cope with when speaking the L2, and also shows that the development of speaking skills is progressive. To reach high accuracy and reasonable fluency requires sufficient practice with timely feedback.

To improve learners’ speaking skills in EFL classrooms, Goh and Burns (2012) recommend two approaches. The first approach is to focus directly on the micro-skills, structural accuracy and language forms. The second one is an indirect approach, focusing on the development of fluency, encouraging learners to use language in communicative activities. Both approaches are applicable for improving CFL learners’ speaking skills, therefore teaching activities should be a balance of improving speaking accuracy as well as fluency. In the era of fast developing technology, both these approaches can be facilitated with the appropriate use of ICT. The next section will discuss the development of CALL (Computer Assisted Language Learning) and its great potential for improving accuracy and fluency in CFL, consequently making the journey of learning to speak Chinese as a foreign language more productive and less onerous.

The Development of Computer Assisted Language Learning (CALL) in CFL

The development of CALL has been reviewed from different angles. In a seminal article Warschauer (2000) examined CALL chronologically and divided it into three consecutive phases, i.e. Structural CALL, Communicative CALL, and Integrative CALL. His framework attempts to map the technology development to the evolvement of language pedagogy. Roughly, Structural CALL, i.e. using the computer as a tutor that automatically checks accuracy and provides feedback, is matched to behavioristic learning theories and a language pedagogy that emphasizes drill and accuracy. The next phase, Communicative CALL, matches the communicative turn in language pedagogy, focusing on fluency development, communication and experiential, bottom-up discovery of grammatical rules. Some of the technologies fitting this phase are Web-Quests, Moodle applications, and learner-generated content. The final phase described in Warschauer’s framework is Integrative CALL, where real-world communication with native speakers is key. As a socio-cognitive approach, the language pedagogy most closely fitting this phase is task-based

or project-based language learning. A prominent method used for this approach is eTandem, where learners communicate with native speakers of the L2 in real-life interaction.

In an extension of Warschauer's framework, Bax (2003) stressed that the division into chronological 'phases' is not as clear-cut as Warschauer claimed. Focusing on use of tools in context, Bax therefore proposed to divide CALL into three types, i.e. Restricted CALL, Open CALL, and Integrated CALL, pointing out that with the normalization of technology, different types of CALL can coexist in one language course even in one lesson; they are not in successive fashion. Restricted CALL restricts the computer use to within the classroom, covering such applications as grammar drills and quizzes. With Open CALL, the use of games, and simulations is added, making the activities less restricted and the possible results more open. Language learning with Integrated CALL was—at the time Bax wrote his article—still considered a future development, when computers or other digital tools would become normal parts of classroom work, integrated for both, the teacher and the students, as normal part of learning; a development Bax predicted as the 'Normalization of CALL'. In the late 2010s, we can safely say that this development has taken place and Integrated CALL can be observed in language education.

No single language pedagogy can be claimed as the 'best one', specifically if we aim at enhancing speaking skills. Later emerging pedagogies (e.g. project-based language learning, task-based language learning) are not inherently better than earlier fashions (e.g. audio-lingual). Every pedagogy will have to match the benefits that can be achieved by applying it with learners' needs, aims, and contexts. Neither Warschauer nor Bax would claim that we should limit our pedagogy to one type of CALL or only use a particular type of ICTs. Therefore language teaching should take a holistic approach, i.e. it should take into account the entire situation when choosing the most suitable method(s) for achieving a goal with a particular group of learners in a specific context. In an ideal world, language teachers should have a range of technical tools and systems to support them in optimizing their teaching philosophy with ease.

In the following sub-sections we will try to delineate how technology has been used so far to support CFL learner's speaking skills, using a three partite framework following ideas from both Warschauer and Bax, but simplifying the divisions proposed. We will list ICTs according to three types: 1) drill type activities, following a behavioristic pedagogy, 2) classroom-based interactions, and 3) authentic communication, i.e. connecting the learner to the wider world. Table 31.1 gives an overview and examples, linking the activities to language pedagogies and underlying learning theories.

The first type includes technology used for discrete pronunciation drills. One example is the NewPepper (Figure 31.1) tone recognition software that records learners' tones, creating

Table 31.1 An overview of how technology has been used to enhance Chinese speaking skills

	<i>CALL activity</i>	<i>ICT examples</i>	<i>language pedagogies</i>	<i>learning theory</i>
1	drill (e.g. pronunciation, tones)	NewPepper tone recognition software	grammar—translation/ audio-lingual	behaviorism
2	classroom interaction (e.g. scaffolded dialogues)	PoodLL (Moodle) language lab, Elluminate	audio-lingual/ communicative	cognitivism
3	authentic communication (e.g. telecollaboration)	Skype, WeChat	communicative/task-based language learning	socio-constructivism



Figure 31.1 Interface of NewPepper

a tone line and comparing this to standard or native speaker tones. The second type involves technology used for classroom teaching either before the lesson, e.g. flipped classroom; or after the teaching phase, e.g. Moodle speaking tool; or replacing face-to-face classroom, e.g. online synchronous speaking tutorials. The third type is making full use of normalized technology for language purposes in the sense that the tools or systems are not specifically developed for education or language learning, but common tools such as WeChat. These technologies are adapted, enabling CFL learners to develop core speaking skills, knowledge of language and discourse, communication strategies, and cultural understanding, for example through telecollaboration projects.

Type 1: Technology for Drills

In Behavioristic CALL, the computer is used as a ‘tutor’. Its main purposes are for drills and practice, mainly following the grammar-translation or audio-lingual language pedagogy. This type of CALL is suitable for correction and helps to support some of the core speaking skills, particularly pronunciation, intonation, and tone drills. A number of different ICTs (software and Apps) are available to help CFL learners with their tones and pronunciation. For example, websites for learning sounds were designed for learners. If a CFL learner clicks on the hyperlink, s/he can hear a native speaker’s pronunciation of a particular pinyin as many times as necessary. More interactive software for improving learners’ pinyin pronunciation is also available. A typical design is this: a learner can choose to listen to the pronunciation of any syllable, repeat this several times till s/he is ready and then record her or his own voice and activate the system to give feedback. Feedback can be given verbally or it can consist of a graph that shows the learner’s pronunciation and maps this onto a native speaker model. For example, the accuracy of tone production can be evaluated against the idealized graph showing the five tones as models. Multimodal feedback is particularly useful as it gives learners direct and more informative clues

in terms of their pronunciation as well as receiving compliments and encouragement which reduces their anxiety and increases their learning motivation. Such systems have been popular, especially at the lower levels of CFL learning.

In a recent publication, Liao et al. (2014) proposed an adaptive Chinese pronunciation training system using automatic speech recognition and speech signal processing techniques, which potentially can reduce inaccurate speech recognition, flawed feedback, and most impressively, can point out why errors occurred and how to improve accuracy. In the area of automated support for the perfect CFL pronunciation technology future improvements should be expected.

Type 2: CALL in the Classroom

A wide range of technologies are available for teachers and learners, some specifically designed for learning (e.g. Moodle, Elluminate), others can be adopted for language learning purposes (e.g. smartphones). Language teaching is increasingly 'blended' (Blake 2008; Chapelle 2016), mixing online and face-to-face teaching to such an extent that the concept of 'classroom' is no longer limited to physical classrooms but can describe online communication spaces, such as Elluminate tutorials, as well.

Learning Management Systems

Learning management systems (LMS), for example Moodle, have been widely used to support the administration of teaching, however, many LMS offer a much wider range of tools to support learning, replacing activities where, historically, language labs were used to maximize speaking practice. Moodle comes with an embedded recording tool, PoodLL, which can be easily integrated into CFL teaching. For instance, a teacher can set up a speaking task for learners, inviting them to submit a voice recording on Moodle instead of attending traditional face-to-face speaking assessments. Within the submission deadline, learners can practice their speaking outside the classroom, record their speech using PoodLL when they feel ready, and then upload the recording to the Moodle platform. In this way, precious in-class time can be saved for other teaching activities. Learners can practice as many times as they want. This increases learners' out-of-class learning time. Such a method can also lower learners' anxiety, as they feel more relaxed without facing their teacher or peers. Another crucial function is that teachers can provide feedback in text and in voice on Moodle. The feedback can be individualized and guide learners on how to improve different aspects of speaking. This is a simple and easy tool for both learners and teachers. Students can use PCs or their smartphones to record and submit their recording, and teachers can mark recordings on a PC or via mobile devices.

Flipped Classrooms

If Moodle tools or other integrated recording systems are used as an extension of traditional speaking classes, for example, in a 'flipped classroom' pedagogy, the time learners spend outside the classroom plays an even more significant role. Flipped learning is a relatively new way of learning, first developed for mathematics teaching in secondary schools (Cerna 2018). Flipped learning can also occur independently, and can be linked to the emergence of Massive Online Open Courses (MOOC). Learners pre-study the online content so that face-to-face class time can be used for practice, or questions and answers. Ample materials for CFL learning are available on MOOCs. Learners study the content (usually vocabulary, grammatical structures, and text) before the class, and then practice oral skills and written skills in the classroom.

Only a few studies exist that provide evidence for the benefits of flipped learning for CFL. Wang et al. (2018) conducted a mixed methods study comparing CFL beginners' oral proficiency supported by a MOOC course. They compared the accuracy, fluency, and complexity of those students who took part in the flipped learning via MOOC with those who learned in a traditional fashion. Their results show 'faster and better development of oral-proficiency development in L2 Mandarin among MOOC-supported students' (Wang et al. 2018: 20). In addition to the improvement of oral proficiency, flipped learning can enhance classroom teaching time as students are already familiar with the content prior to the lesson, and more classroom time can be used for more challenging skills and/or more specific feedback and reinforcement.

Flipping the classroom can free up cognitive capacity. Taking into account Skehan's (2009) 'limited-capacity cognition model' that claims that learners have only a certain capacity for cognitive processing during a given task, the pre-processing or pre-learning taking place during the preparation phase of flipped learning, can increase the benefits of in-class time. Wang et al. claim that 'a flipped L2 classroom can provide learners with more time and occasions for meaningful communication, within which more scaffolding from the teacher, and also between peers could be expected to take place' (2018: 23). The key for such success in this case is that the in-class time for the learners to practice their speaking skills has been significantly increased compared to the control group as these learners have already had a basic understanding of the text before attending the class. Although, in this case, technology is a necessary tool to create the teaching design, this study shows that the improvement of the learners' speaking skills was not directly caused by technology but facilitated by it in combination with the use of innovative pedagogy.

Online Synchronous Classrooms

The above section focused on the integration of online technologies (e.g. MOOCs) into face-to-face lessons, creating a blended learning environment. However, increasingly, language lessons can also be completely online. In the context of distance learning, synchronous online instruction has been around since the early twenty-first century (e.g. Lyceum, a synchronous online audio-graphic conferencing system developed by the Open University). Audio-graphic systems have evolved from Lyceum and Elluminate to Adobe Connect, Skype, FlashMeeting, WebCT, NetMeeting, DimDim, and so on. We will take Elluminate as an example to discuss the affordances of online synchronous conferencing systems for the development of speaking skills in general, however, many current systems offer similar features.

Elluminate (Figure 31.2) is a multimodal videoconferencing system designed for online teaching. It offers a whiteboard as a central screen element, with multi-channel speaking, video for multiple users, private and public textchat, shared web-browsing, desktop and application sharing, document transfer, quizzes, notebook and annotation, and other optional elements. Such a system accommodates real-time interactive language lessons and enables multimodal interactions among learners and teachers.

Stickler and Shi (2013) used multimodal analysis and stimulated recall interviews to investigate the intricate interactions within online synchronous sessions for CFL beginners. They found that the teacher and learners used a wide range of multimodal elements in real-time online interactions ranging from voice to text, and emoticons. They also found that peers gave each other support and thus reduced anxiety to a certain degree. There was also evidence of learners' increased use of the target language over time.

However, this study also revealed an important issue in synchronous online language tutorials: on several occasions, the teacher's intention did not match the learners' perception. Such mismatch resulted in confusion or even communication breakdown. Reasons for these mismatches

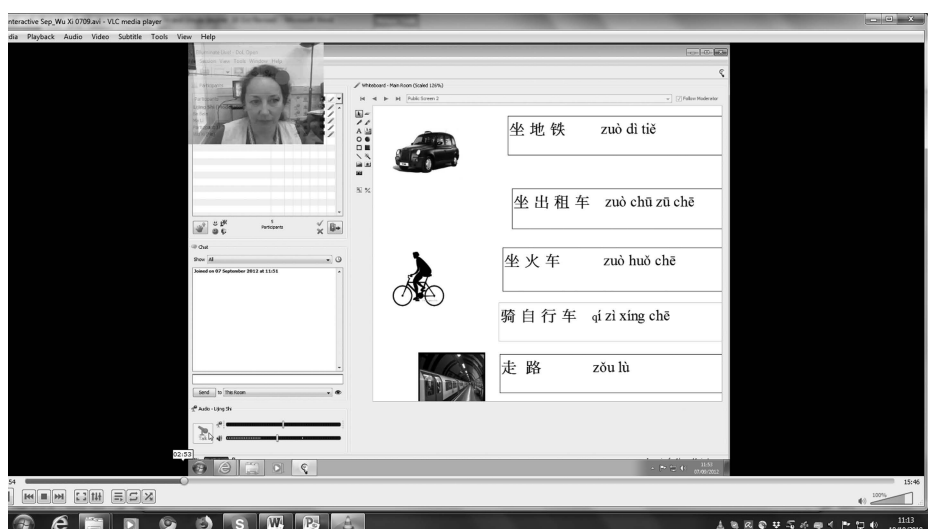


Figure 31.2 Elluminate interface

can be multiple, including a lack of linguistic competence, technical difficulties, and emotional factors such as anxiety, cultural misunderstandings, and cognitive overload. For example, using speaking, textchat, and emoticons concurrently could potentially cause information overload in learners and make it more difficult for those who are linguistically struggling to focus on speech production. Considering Stickler and Shi's (2013: 66) warning that 'both teachers and learners need to be prepared for online interaction to make the most of the opportunities for speaking practice and instruction'. Their study also highlights the requirements of training online language teachers to take all factors into account when using the full range of available communication channels.

Type 3: Into the Real World

Many of the above-mentioned tools or systems are purposefully developed for language learning or for education. With increasingly ubiquitous technology in human life, the latest development for improving CFL learners' speaking skills has been via commonly used ICT tools such as social media and communication tools (e.g. YouTube, WhatsApp, WeChat). Using social media is an avenue into the real world and one step closer to the 'authentic use of the target language'. For example, if a CFL learner uploads his/her video in Chinese to YouTube, the audience is not only their peers or their teacher any more, but the general public sharing the same platform. 'Into the real world' can mean either a language task that is authentic and has a real purpose and outcome, or employing a tool that is not restricted to educational purposes. Whether the teaching purpose is a micro- or a macro-focus (Goh and Burns 2012), using authentic tasks and/or authentic tools allows learners to experience real-life communication, albeit with scaffolding and support by a teacher.

This section will introduce two ways of using technology to connect CFL learners with the real world: WeChat-based projects and Telecollaboration.

WeChat-Based CFL Speaking

WeChat has become the most used social communication application in China, offering multiple features that can replace other software applications such as Facebook, Skype or Twitter. It

allows free text (SMS/MMS), voice, and video calls, moments (known as 'Friends' Circle' among Chinese users), photo sharing, and games. In other words, WeChat integrates a variety of communication tools such as videoconferencing, text messaging, voice messaging, and group discussion into one forum, without the user ever having to leave the app.

(Luo and Yang 2018: 14)

By March 2018, the number of its active monthly users had reached one billion. With such huge user base and all-in-one capacity, it is not surprising to observe an increasing interest in exploring the use of WeChat for CFL speaking skills.

A small group of researchers (Li 2017; Luo and Yang 2016; Zhan and Chen 2018) have investigated the potential of using WeChat for language learning and deemed these: expanding learning time, increasing linguistic gains, experiencing more cultural input, lowering anxiety, higher learning motivation, and establishing a supportive learning community. Zhan and Chen (2018) in particular pointed out that using WeChat recording (a voice message function) is an efficient way of oral practice for mixed-ability study abroad students and can maximize teacher-student contact in the target language. It facilitated the delivery of prompt and individualized feedback. The reported studies are all exploratory in nature, and thus require more research to provide empirical details in terms of how using WeChat could benefit CFL learners' core speaking skills, sociocultural knowledge, and learning strategies.

Xu and Peng's research (2017) focused on the corrective feedback on CFL learners' speaking skills via WeChat. Thirteen advanced CFL learners attended a weekly two-hour speaking course for the duration of 12 weeks. A WeChat group was established that allowed them to submit recorded assignments using its voice messaging function and to receive corrective feedback. Each learner had to submit nine 2–3 minute long recordings over a semester. Two teaching assistants (TAs) provided oral feedback in Chinese to each learner after listening to the recordings via WeChat. The TAs also summarized key points in text message format and then sent them to the students to ensure clarity. A mixed methods approach was employed to investigate the types of feedback learners received and learners' attitudes towards this mobile-assisted language learning. The results show that nearly 70 percent of mobile-assisted corrective feedback is on overt correction, mainly targeting linguistic accuracy (grammar and vocabulary), whereas positive feedback is more geared towards affirmation, with content and vocabulary as the most frequently focused linguistic targets. In both types of feedback, pronunciation was not the top concern, which may be due to the fact that the study dealt with more advanced learners.

Questionnaire data from Xu and Peng's research (2017) revealed that learners held a generally positive attitude towards mobile-assisted feedback and confirmed the facilitative role of WeChat feedback in enhancing their speaking ability. However, concerns raised by two students who reported feeling uncomfortable about using WeChat for speaking assignments are worthy of further consideration. Learners' attitudes towards this WeChat-based speaking format could be partially due to the fact that WeChat is a highly 'sticky' App satisfying a wide range of user's needs in terms of communication, socializing, and much more (e.g. paying bills, calling a taxi), which makes it difficult for users to switch to different Apps. Not all Western learners will feel comfortable with this pervasiveness and as pedagogues we need to be mindful of the features of a technology and of the learners' needs.

Comparing this study with the use of PoodLL (the recording tool of Moodle), there is no significant difference in terms of pedagogy. In a positive sense, using WeChat removes the technical training which is needed when a new tool is employed for language learning. It is accessible throughout China, setting it apart from some Western social media (e.g. YouTube, Twitter, Facebook), which are blocked in China. However, the convenience of WeChat comes with a price: shy students might feel uncomfortable sending a voice recording to an entire group, and some users might dislike the pervasiveness and potential loss of privacy of social media. Hence, CFL teachers need to consider how to protect learners and build a safe and relaxing environment when using social media and communication tools.

Telecollaboration

Telecollaboration is a form of virtual language exchange between learners of different mother tongues. Belz defines telecollaboration as 'institutionalized, electronically mediated intercultural communication under the guidance of a language cultural expert (i.e. a teacher) for the purpose of foreign language learning and the development of intercultural competence' (2003: 2). With the arrival of Web 2.0 technology, more communication and social media tools/platforms have been used for language/cultural exchange online, including Twitter, Facebook, Wiki, YouTube, Vimeo, WordPress, Podcasting, just to name a few. Due to its complex nature and accessibility issues, there are only a handful of CFL eTandem projects to date (Luo and Yang 2018) and most of them only deal with written communication. In the following, we will describe a limited number of studies involving oral skills.

One of the early projects using spoken interaction is Kan et al. (2013) reporting on advanced beginners of Chinese from a UK-based university practicing their Mandarin with volunteers at a teacher training college in Beijing, who were given the opportunity to converse in English via Skype. The researchers emphasized the importance of teacher preparation and ongoing facilitation to guarantee the success of the eTandem project. The UK learners reflected on the crucial role of intercultural awareness when communicating with their Chinese partners. For some of them learning the functions of online tools, e.g. digital dictionaries, and the use of multimodal support such as sharing images, became a valuable facet of the project.

Zhang (2016) reported on a project of 12 American university students using social communication tools (e.g. Skype, QQ, WeChat) to converse with native Chinese students in China in order to complete a project on Chinese culture. The study revealed that despite the teacher's initial planning and encouragement to communicate orally, only two students used audio recording for this tandem project. This confirms that CFL learners face anxiety when communicating orally with native speakers.

Two further studies by Wang and Tian (2013) and Renner (2017), respectively, look at negotiating meaning in eTandem pairs via (audio-) videoconferencing; in the latter case, interactions in Chinese and German.

The design of all the above studies is in line with Goh and Burns' holistic approach (2012) of teaching speaking; the emphasis is on giving learners an opportunity to develop their skills in situated learning, assisted with technology. In other words, speaking skills were not seen as a discrete element to be focused on in a closed classroom, but as a skill that allows authentic communication with native speakers. At the same time, learners had the opportunity to enhance their cultural knowledge and communication strategies. Implicit in these studies is also the awareness of common challenges for intercultural exchange projects such as task design, students' anxiety, access to different technologies, and differences in time zones.

As telecollaboration is a relatively new development in CALL and internet access in China can be limited, it is highly challenging and rare for CFL learners to link up with native speakers or CFL learners in China (Luo and Yang 2018). An alternative to eTandem is a model reported by Shi (2018) linking CFL learners from three European universities. Aiming for improving their linguistic skills and intercultural competence, these high-level CFL learners in LSE, INALCO, and Venice University collaborated online for three years. Students first produced their own videos in Mandarin Chinese on one chosen social issue individually, in pairs or in groups. They then uploaded their videos to the internet (e.g. YouTube, Vimeo, Google Drive, Dropbox) so that sharable links were generated. A project blog was also set up on WordPress (a blogging platform) where posts were published with video links embedded so that students could comment on their favorite videos in terms of language and content as well as cultural comparison. In producing their own videos learners had ample opportunities to practice their speaking skills: they needed to discuss with their partners, interview people, and present their findings in Chinese. With the online presence (e.g. on YouTube and on WordPress) and the awareness that their videos would be watched by learners in the partner universities, students had more authentic purpose and sense of audience. This pushed them to pay attention to pronunciation accuracy and fluency. Learners acquired the skills needed for a particular purpose (in this case, making a video for a wider audience), which means that speaking skills were developed together with other language skills and with intercultural competence. The technologies used in this project were common (“normalized”) social media tools.

Benefits and challenges of telecollaboration for CFL are still to be discovered as research in this area is in its early days and the open nature of these authentic exchanges makes research challenging. Thorne advocates the use of social media for language learning in less controlled circumstances, as ‘intercultural communication in the wild’ (Thorne 2010: 144). Using everyday communication tools and communicating with people in real situations offer great potential for CFL learners, but entail great challenges as well. In terms of the design and implementation of such projects, teachers need to possess excellent organizational competences, digital competences, pedagogical competences, and have positive attitudes and beliefs (O’Dowd 2016). In terms of research, current CFL projects—whether using WeChat or in the form of telecollaboration—often involve just a small number of learners, or are of a piloting nature. There is a need to continue such experiments and innovations; and at the same time to employ more robust research design to examine the real impact on learners’ speaking skills and communication strategies.

Summary and Future Developments

Although it does not strictly follow a time line, a trajectory of development from controlled, automated drills to scaffolded, tutor-supported practice, and finally spontaneous, but well-planned interchange with native speakers, can be matched onto the development of language learning pedagogy. We have attempted to trace this development according to changes in ICT and CALL software, mapping a journey from computer-as-tutor in the case of pronunciation and tone-accuracy drills, to the use of educational platforms adapted for language learning, for example Moodle and MOOCs, to the use of generic tools in the service of real-life communication and the development of speaking skills. This last step of telecollaboration and authentic language use is promising, particularly for advanced learners. Although the projects are still in development and thorough research is lacking, advances in technology and globalization will probably mean that this type of speaking practice will become mainstream in a relatively short time.

Extrapolating the developments into the future, we can predict that the use of translation and speech recognition software will change the way we communicate in real-life situations. Whether this happens in an immersion situation, where—relatively—advanced learners of the language can make use of online speech recognition and translation software to aid their comprehension during dialogues with native speakers, or even the use of speech production to convert inaccurate utterances into something closer to native pronunciation, the technical developments necessary for such technology supported immersion are already under way.

Alternatively, virtual immersion, simulating an environment for contact with native speakers during online exchanges, could be optimized for language learning. In the next section, we will discuss the implications of past and future technological developments for the learning and teaching of speaking skills in CFL.

Discussion

Although Chinese is commonly seen as a difficult language to speak, nowadays CFL learners can enjoy a wide range of technologies and tools to help them perfect their pronunciation, receive timely and individualized feedback, and interact with native speakers and other CFL learners. The development of technology, and more importantly the continuous advancement in language teaching pedagogy (moving towards sociocultural, active learning, and agency) can help learners develop not only their core speaking skills, but also practice communication strategies in real-life situations, for example, during eTandem exchanges. As Goh and Burns (2012) point out, speaking skills are not limited to forming the correct sounds or even choosing the correct words. Extending learners' knowledge of language and discourse through reflection and with the help of a facilitator is an essential step in their progress. Going beyond Goh and Burns (2012), we would also emphasize that developing critical intercultural awareness is a necessity, particularly for CFL learners, due to the distance of language and culture.

The development in speaking skills is generally described from low level to high-level; in parallel learners are faced with increasingly authentic communication situations, from in-class, isolated pronunciation drills to total immersion in the L2 culture. Figure 31.3 show how some ICT tools map onto this change in authenticity of communication.

In the twenty-first century, absolutely no language teaching takes place without technology. Accompanying learners from low level to high-level speaking skills, specific ICTs can support

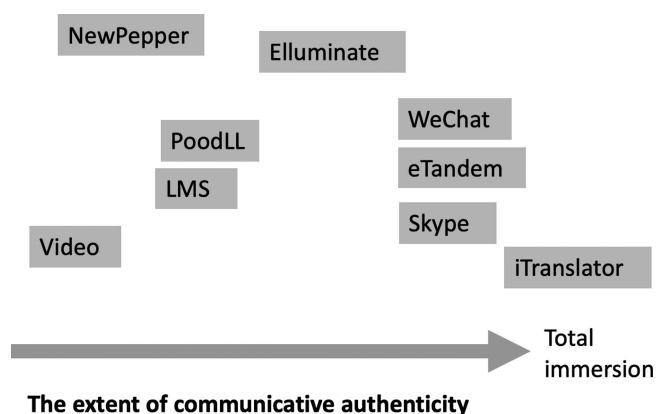


Figure 31.3 The extent of communicative authenticity

the teacher in his or her role: from the basic pronunciation and tone drills (e.g. NewPepper) that work in relative isolation from authentic communication situations to authentic social media (e.g. Skype) that facilitate eTandem. Figure 31.4 grades the ICT tools according to their dominance in the learning situation. For example, a video may be used in a classroom with beginner learners but it will not replace the teacher and dominate the learning, whereas NewPepper may well be used independently by learners without a teacher and thus shows more dominance.

What does this mean for CFL teachers? On one hand, certain parts of their job are getting easier; but on the other hand, teachers need to take on new roles. We have seen that drill type technology can reduce teachers' workload in some areas, for example well-designed tools can work as 'tutors' to give students automated feedback on their tones and pinyin. Technology in the form of LMS can also enable teachers to provide students with task instruction and feedback without the constraints of time and location. With communication tools like videoconferencing teachers can conduct synchronous tutorials, reducing the need for physical presence in the classroom and hence the necessity of travel. Figure 31.5 now maps the teacher's visibility (or dominance) to the increase in authenticity. As expected, the more authentic the communication situation in CFL gets, the lower the visibility or dominance of the teacher.

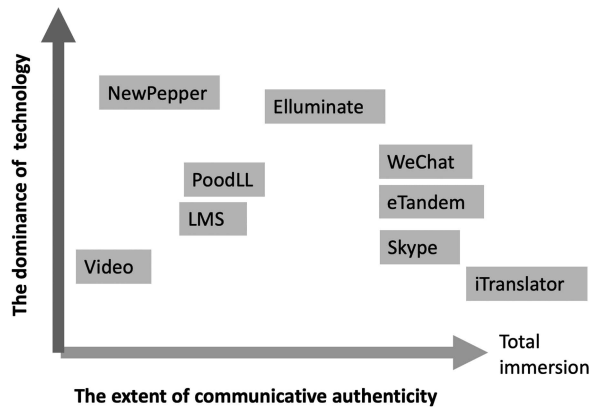


Figure 31.4 Dominance of technology at different levels of authenticity

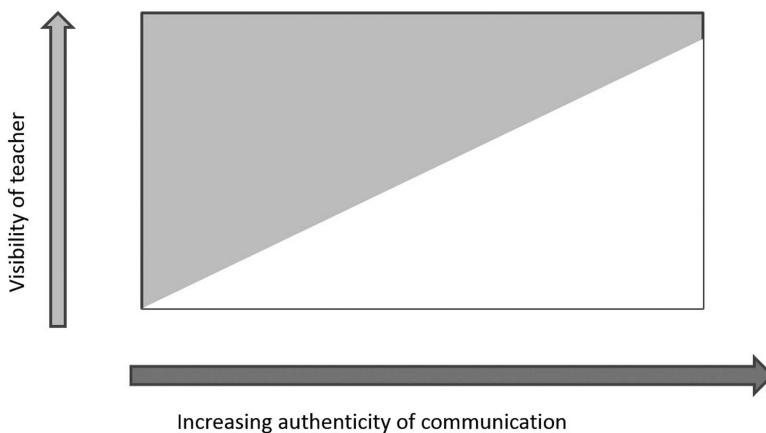


Figure 31.5 The reduced visibility of the teacher in increasingly authentic learning situations

At the same time, CFL teachers also have to play more roles than they used to and switch from one role to another skillfully. In addition to being an instructor, s/he also needs to be a material designer if s/he hopes to offer online tutorials. As Stickler and Shi's study (2013) shows, teaching CFL online is distinctively different from face-to-face classroom teaching, and therefore online teaching materials need to be modified or re-designed in order to appropriately employ different modes and tools offered by online teaching systems. Teachers need to help students when they navigate around different tools, offer training if a new piece of software is used, and facilitate and moderate interactions in online collaborative projects. Whether in flipped classrooms or WeChat-based projects, well-thought through feedback needs to be given to avoid learners feeling lost. This change in teacher role is symbolized by the three-dimensional aspect of the (yellow) teacher triangle in Figure 31.5.

In cases where technology becomes more dominant (e.g. automated feedback), the teachers' role seems to disappear. However, skillful facilitation and guidance is still present in the background. Similarly, when communication becomes more authentic, (e.g. telecollaborative projects), teachers may seem to become superfluous as learners are interacting with peers, native speakers or even the general public. However, teachers are constantly working in the background by setting up safe learning environments, preparing the smooth running of the projects mediated by technology and closely monitoring the progress of learners, and by being ready to intervene in the case of problems or even implement Plan B if things go wrong.

To paraphrase Thorne (2010), language teachers need to guide students 'into the wild' of authentic communication in real-life situations. Preparing their learners also means giving them the necessary tools to deal with the challenges of L2 communication. The above-mentioned roles may seem to be new or challenging for some CFL teachers, and in reality teachers may have to play multiple roles at the same time. Taking eTandem projects as an example, teachers need to design tasks, seek partnerships, supervise online interactions, mediate online discussions, and encourage learners to reflect on their language/cultural learning. Projecting into the future, CFL teachers may well have to prepare their learners for the skillful use of online translation tools, speech recognition and production software, and character recognition apps.

Going beyond a linear-historical model (Warschauer 2000), we extend our model of technology for CFL speaking skills development into three dimensions: on one axis, the use and

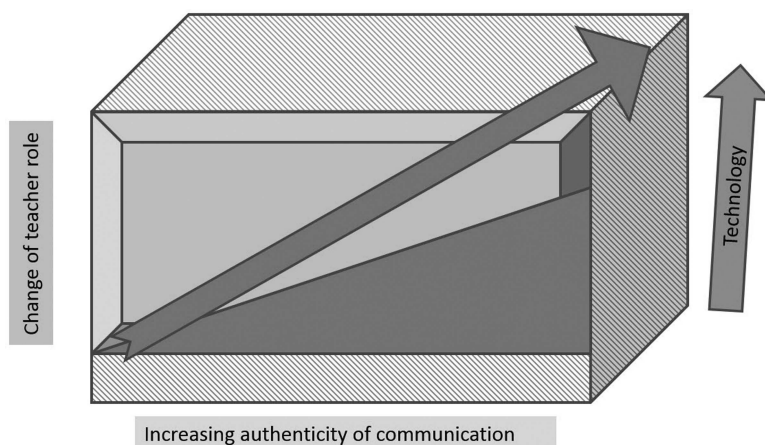


Figure 31.6 The interplay of technology, teacher role, and authenticity of communication

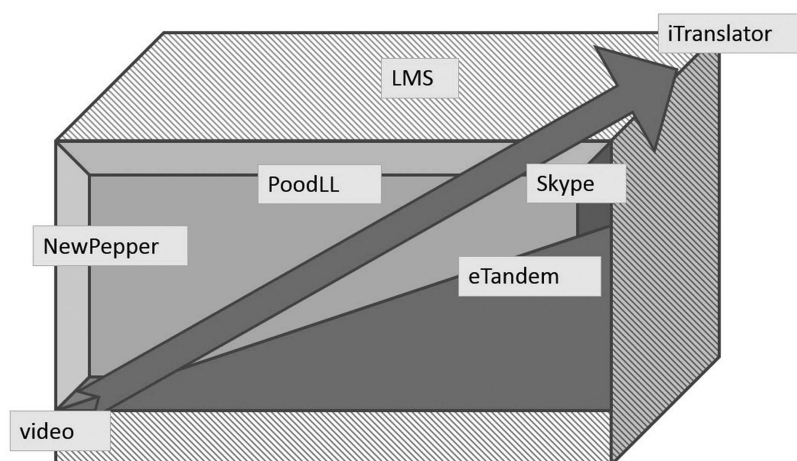


Figure 31.7 Tools for supporting Chinese speaking skills at different points of learning

dominance of technology (ICTs) to support the teacher, on the next axis the visibility or involvement of the teacher, and on the third axis the move from controlled practice towards authentic communication situations, matching a change in pedagogy from behavioristic drills to sociocultural experiential learning (Figure 31.6).

Technology is ever present, even if only in its simplest forms of playing videos or audio files in the classroom. The teacher's role, as well, does not disappear, although it might change form in the support of speaking, from pronunciation model and immediate feedback provider to selecting and training learners in the use of appropriate software to facilitating online exchanges. And finally, the role of authentic communication arrives early in technology-enhanced CFL, as multiple sources for authentic speaking samples are available and teachers can bring the 'wild' into the classroom while guiding their more advanced learners into the simulated or authentic wild of real-life L2 communication.

Figure 31.7 shows how various tools and technical support fit into the three-dimensional model of technology-teacher's role-authenticity of communication.

We claim that the key of employing technology in language teaching is to be learner-centered and context-sensitive. CFL teachers need competence beyond a technical level, meaning that they know how to select the most appropriate ICTs, how to support learners in their use, and that they take into account students' cognitive (over-)load, metacognitive challenges, social and emotional needs, and group dynamics. Our model can help identify particular skills that CFL teachers develop to be able to successfully integrate ICTs into their teaching of speaking Chinese.

Conclusions

In this chapter, we attempted to show how technology can support the development of speaking skills in Chinese, not just at the basic level of pronunciation accuracy and fluency, but integrated into a holistic view of communicating in situated social activities. We acknowledged the challenges of linguistic and cultural distance for CFL learners, and we pointed out ways of dealing with speaking anxieties using technology. We now pose the challenges to CFL teachers to integrate suitable technologies into the curriculum to make the learning to speak Chinese more

relaxed and more effective. As future developments in the area of technology-enhanced CFL teaching, we foresee more collaborative projects, more synchronous online tutorials, more use of mobile devices, and—crucially—the need for more technology-aware pedagogical training for CFL teachers.

Acknowledgment

Our thanks to Chivox Co. Ltd for allowing us to include its copyrighted image of NewPepper.

References

- Bax, S. (2003) 'CALL—past, present and future'. *System* 31(1): 13–28. doi: 10.1016/s0346-251x(02)00071-4
- Belz, J. A. (2003) 'Linguistic perspective on the development of intercultural communicative competence in telecollaboration'. *Language Learning & Technology* 7: 68–117.
- Blake, R. (2008) *Brave New Digital Classroom: Technology and Foreign Language Learning*. Washington, DC: Georgetown University Press.
- Burns, A. (2013) 'A holistic approach to teaching speaking in the language classroom'. Paper presented at the Symposium 2012. Lärarrollen i svenska som andraspråk Stockholm.
- Cerna, M. (2018) 'Psychodidactic approach in the development of language competences in university students within blended learning'. *Open Learning: The Journal of Open, Distance and e-Learning* 33(2): 142–154. doi: 10.1080/02680513.2018.1454834
- Chao, Y. R. (1948, 1972) *Mandarin Primer: An Intensive Course in Spoken Chinese*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- Chapelle, C. (2016) 'Foreword'. In P. Gruba, M. S. Cárdenas-Claros, R. Suvorov and K. Rick (eds.), *Blended Language Program Evaluation*, xi–xii. Berlin: Springer.
- Goh, C. C. M. and Burns, A. (2012) *Teaching Speaking: A Holistic Approach*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Kan, Q., Stickler, U. and Xu, C. (2013) 'Chinese-English eTandem Learning: The role of pre-project preparation and collaboration'. *Chinese Language Globalisation Studies* 2(5): 1–10.
- Levelt, W. J. M. (1989) *Speaking: From Intention to Articulation*. Cambridge, MA: The MIT Press.
- Li, J. (2017) 'Digital affordances on WeChat: Learning Chinese as a second language'. *Computer Assisted Language Learning* 31(1–2): 27–52.
- Liao, H.-C., Guan, Y.-H., Tu, J.-J. and Chen, J.-C. (2014) 'A prototype of an adaptive Chinese pronunciation training system'. *System* 45: 52–66. doi: Retrieved from <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.system.2014.04.006>
- Lu, Y. (ed.) (2017) *Teaching And Learning Chinese in Higher Education: Theoretical and Practical Issues*. Abingdon: Routledge.
- Luo, H. and Yang, C. (2016) 'Using WeChat in teaching L2 Chinese: An exploratory study'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Learning* 7(2): 82–96.
- Luo, H. and Yang, C. (2018) 'Twenty years of telecollaborative practice: Implications for teaching Chinese as a foreign language'. *Computer Assisted Language Learning* 31(5–6): 546–571.
- Ma, X., Gong, Y., Gao, X. and Xiang Y. (2017) 'The teaching of Chinese as a second or foreign language: A systematic review of the literature 2005–2015'. *Journal of Multilingual and Multicultural Development* 38(9): 815–830.
- Nunan, D. (1991) *Language Teaching Methodology: A Textbook for Teachers*. New York: Prentice Hall.
- O'Dowd, R. (2016) 'Emerging trends and new directions in telecollaborative learning'. *CALICO Journal* 33(3): 291–310.
- Peltonen, P. (2017) 'Temporal fluency and problem-solving in interaction: An exploratory study of fluency resources in L2 dialogue'. *System* 70: 1–13.
- Renner, J. (2017) 'Negotiation of meaning and language-related episodes in synchronous, audio-based Chinese-German eTandem'. *Language Learning in Higher Education* 7(1): 137–159. doi: 10.1515/cercles-2017-0006

- Sato, M. (2014) 'Exploring the construct of interactional oral fluency: Second language acquisition and language testing approaches'. *System* 45: 79–91.
- Shi, L. (2018) *Creativity, Connectiveness and Critical Thinking: What We Can Learn from a Three-Year Online Exchange Project*. Paper presented at the ChinaCALL & GLoCALL Conference, Suzhou, China.
- Shih, C. (1997) 'Mandarin third tone sandhi and prosodic structure'. *Linguistic Models* 20: 81–124.
- Skehan, P. (2009) 'Models of speaking and the assessment of second language proficiency'. In A. Benati (ed.), *Issues in Second Language Proficiency*, 203–215. London: Continuum.
- Stickler, U. and Shi, L. (2013) 'Supporting Chinese speaking skills online. *System* 41(1): 50–69.
- Thorne, S. (2010) 'The intercultural turn and language learning in the crucible of new media. In S. Guth and F. Helm (eds.), *Telecollaboration 2.0: Language and Intercultural Learning in the 21st Century*, 139–165. Bern: Peter Lang.
- Wang, J., An, N. and Wright, C. (2018) 'Enhancing beginner learners' oral proficiency in a flipped Chinese foreign language classroom'. *Computer Assisted Language Learning* 31(5–6): 490–521. doi: 10.1080/09588221.2017.1417872
- Wang, Y. and Tian, J. (2013) 'Negotiation of meaning in multimodal Tandem learning via desktop videoconferencing'. *International Journal of Computer Assisted Language Learning and Teaching* 3(2): 41–55.
- Warschauer, M. (2000) *CALL for the 21st Century*. Paper presented at the IATEFL and ESADE Conference, Barcelona, Spain. Retrieved from www.gse.uci.edu/markw/cyberspace.html
- Xu, Q. and Peng, H. (2017) 'Investigating mobile-assisted oral feedback in teaching Chinese as a second language'. *Computer Assisted Language Learning* 30(3–4): 173–182. doi: 10.1080/09588221.2017.1297836
- Yang, B. (2014) *Perception and Production of Mandarin Tones by Native Speakers and L2 Learners*. Berlin: Springer.
- Zhan, H. and Chen, L. (2018) 'Performing WeChat recording tasks in mixed-ability study abroad content courses'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Learning* 9(1): 15–34.
- Zhang, S. (2016) 'Learning through a CMC-based tandem project with native speakers: A descriptive Study of Beginning CFL Learners'. *Journal of Technology and Chinese Language Teaching* 7(2): 58–81.

Towards Automatic Identification of Chinese Collocation Errors

Zhao-Ming Gao

Introduction

Collocations play a very important role in second language learning (cf. Lewis 1993, Nation 2001; Nation and Webb 2011, Nesselhauf 2005; Schmitt 2000, 2010, among others). They reflect users' depth of vocabulary knowledge as well as their language proficiency level. Collocations are one of the most significant features that can distinguish native from non-native writers. Non-native writers tend to make collocation errors unconsciously, many of which arise from their first-language interference. To date, most researches on collocations center on English and other Western languages. These studies typically involve the identification of collocations (cf. Church et al 1991, 1994; Church and Hanks 1990; Smadja 1993, among others). Shei and Pain (2000) tackle the thorny problem of automatic corrections of English miscollocation by employing different sources of knowledge. Along the same lines, Chang et al. (2008) describe an intelligent system that can detect English miscollocations by Taiwanese learners. Jian, Chang and Chang (2004) present a pioneering research on Chinese-English bilingual collocation extraction system. Gao (2014) presents an English collocation retrieval system which provides Chinese-English bilingual examples. There have been a few studies on Chinese collocation extraction. For instance, Xu et al. (2003) employ lexical statistics to extract Chinese collocations. Li et al. (2007) and Chen et al. (2016) present hybrid approaches to Chinese collocation system by employing syntactic and statistical information. However, to date, studies on Chinese miscollocation identification are very scarce.

While a Chinese collocation retrieval system such as Li et al. (2007) and Chen et al. (2016) may be used in detecting miscollocations, a collocation checker is nevertheless less time-consuming, as it can straightforwardly and automatically pinpoint the occurrence and position of a potential miscollocation. The pedagogical benefits of such a Chinese collocation checker are obvious. It can raise learners' language awareness to collocations that have been overlooked and incorrectly used. This might enhance their knowledge in collocations and their learner autonomy. A Chinese collocation checker might help learners detect and correct their own collocation errors, thus relieving their instructors from the drudgery of correcting recurrent collocation errors. This might help the instructors focus more on their students' problems in syntax, organizations, and other aspects of writing. Such a system might also have impact on second

language acquisition (SLA) research, as collections and analyses of collocation errors are vital to our understanding of the difficulties and problems learners encounter (cf. Nesselhauf 2005).

Just like other errors in learner corpora, error-tagged miscollocations are not widely available to researchers. Traditionally, miscollocations can only be identified via very time-consuming process of manual error tagging. Thanks to recent advances in natural language processing (NLP), automatic identification of miscollocations has been made possible. This chapter presents a Chinese miscollocation identification system by drawing on a large Chinese corpus and NLP techniques. It will be demonstrated that such a system not only has pedagogical value, but also can facilitate the study of Chinese miscollocations by non-native speakers.

Literature Review

There are two approaches to the study of collocations, namely, the frequency-based approach (Martin et al. 1983; Sinclair 1987) and the phraseological approach (Benson 1989; Cowie 1981). The frequency-based approach to collocations typically involves the computation of co-occurrences of a keyword and any word around it within a fixed window size. For example, Sinclair (1987) identifies the collocates of a given word by computing the statistics of the word and any word within a fixed span around it. Drawing on NLP tools, researchers have proposed automated procedures to retrieve collocations from corpora by using statistical methods such as mutual information (MI) and t-score (Church and Hanks 1990) as well as log likelihood ratio (Dunning 1993).

Church and Hanks (1990) and Smadja (1993) are pioneering studies on computational approaches to collocation extraction using corpora. Church and Hanks (1990) employ mutual information (MI) to measure the strength of association between two words. However, as MI tends to overestimate low frequency words that happen to co-occur together, Church and Hanks (1990) propose using MI in conjunction with t-score, a statistical significance test. Church and Hanks (1990) suggest that the threshold of MI and t-score are 0 and 1.65, respectively. Dunning (1993), however, advocates another statistical significance test called Log Likelihood Ratio test (LLR) to identify collocations (cf. Manning and Schütze 1999).

In addition to statistical measures, dependency relations derived from parsers play important roles in identifying collocations (cf. Basil and Pazienza 1992; Church et al 1991, 1994; Church and Hanks 1990; Kilgarriff 2004; Lin 1998; Smadja 1993). While statistical measures are in general very useful to identifying significant collocations, collocation extraction based simply on the threshold values of MI, t-score, or LLR is found not entirely reliable. Many scholars suggest hybrid methods, which combine the predicative relations derived from a parser and statistical information. The predicative relations (also known as dependency relations) include structural relations such as subject-verb, verb-object, adjective-noun, and verb-adverb. The hybrid approaches thus integrate the phraseological approach with the frequency-based approach.

Most recent studies on collocation extraction adopt hybrid approaches. For instance, Jian, Chang and Chang (2004) present TANGO, a program which given a keyword and its part-of-speech can extract English collocation patterns (i.e. v-n, n-p, v-n-p, a-n) together with their Chinese-English examples from parallel Chinese-English corpora. Shei and Pain (2000) present a conceptual framework to detect and correct collocation errors by Chinese learners of English. They draw on a learner corpus, a reference corpus, a dictionary of synonyms derived from WordNet, and a paraphrase database compiled using learner data. Addressing the same problem of miscollocations caused by first-language interference suggested by Shei and Pain (2000), Chang et al. (2008) focus on the identification and correction of V-N miscollocations by Chinese learners of English. They extract V-N collocations from British National Corpus (BNC)

and learner corpora and use a bilingual English-Chinese dictionary to identify the meanings intended by the learners. They then use the collocations extracted from BNC to pinpoint the miscollocations in the learner corpora and suggest correct collocations which learners might have intended to use.

While Chinese has become increasingly more popular, studies on the identification of Chinese collocations are relatively scarce. Xu et al. (2003) take the statistical approach by employing lexical statistics to extract Chinese collocations. Li et al. (2007) and Chen et al. (2016) present hybrid approaches to the Chinese collocation system by using syntactic and statistical information. However, to date, there have been very few studies on Chinese miscollocation identification. Chen et al. (2016) is one of the few empirical studies that describe the development of a Chinese collocation system based on a large tagged corpus. While the paper demonstrates the effectiveness of the proposed system in accomplishing a translation task by learners and teachers of Chinese, it does not address the issue of how efficiently or how well the system can help learners. Nor does it discuss the potential problems of using authentic monolingual corpora by learners with intermediate or lower levels.

Limitations of Existing Chinese Dependency Parsers

We follow the phraseological approach taken by Cowie (1981) and Benson (1989) and consider collocations as a type of word combinations. As pointed out by Smadja (1993), many collocations involve predicative relations such as subject-verb, verb-object, and adjective-noun. These predicative relations can be identified by using dependency parsers. Several important previous studies on English collocation extraction (cf. Church and Hanks 1990; Kilgariff 2004; Lin 1998; Seretan 2011; Smadja 1993) employ parsers to retrieve collocations. Along the same lines, our approach also relies on a parser which can identify the dependency relations of an input Chinese sentence.

There are several parsers available which can perform such a task. The online Chinese parser developed at Chinese Knowledge Information Processing Group (CKIP) at Academia Sinica (parser.iis.sinica.edu.tw) is a sophisticated Chinese parser capable of providing detailed syntactic and semantic information including syntactic structure trees and semantic roles. However, it does not provide the source code. Stanford parser and SyntaxNet are two dependency parsers most widely used by researchers in natural language processing. Stanford parser (c.f. de Marneffe et al. 2006) is a multilingual parser that can parse and identify numerous dependency relations, such as modifier-noun, subject-verb, verb-noun in English, German, French, Spanish, Chinese, and Arabic. SyntaxNet is also a multilingual parser similar to the Stanford parser and has recently been released to the research community by Google. These two parsers were downloaded and compared.

The Stanford parser and SyntaxNet were tested with sample news articles. (1) is the partial output of a randomly selected sentence by Stanford parser, which contains the results of Chinese word segmentation, part-of-speech tagging, and enhanced universal dependency relations of the input Chinese sentence, among other information. (1a) is the result of word segmentation and part-of-speech tagging. Note there are several errors in (1a). The word segmentation of 唐鳳說起 should be corrected as 唐鳳 說起, in which 唐鳳 'Tang Feng' is a proper name and 說起 'said' is a verb. 決定 'decide' in this context should be tagged as a verb rather than a noun. Furthermore, 扛下 should be merged and treated as a verb 扛下 'shouldered'. The examples in (1) reveal that the accuracy of the Chinese word segmentation and part-of-speech tagging functions of the Stanford parser is not satisfactory. Because

a Chinese parser is based on the output of Chinese word segmentation and part-of-speech tagging, errors in the previous stages will inevitably affect the accuracy of the parser. Consider (1b), which is the output of the enhanced universal dependencies. The relation *nsubj*(扛-5, 決定-4) indicates that the fourth word 決定 ‘decide; decision’ and the fifth word 扛 ‘shouldered’ form the subject-verb relation. The analysis, however, is incorrect, as 決定 ‘decide; decision’ in this context is a verb rather than a noun. Similarly, the relation *dobj*(扛-5, 初心-10) reveals that the fifth word 扛 ‘shouldered’ and the tenth word 初心 ‘initial intention’ form the object-noun relation. This is also incorrect, as the object of the verb 扛 ‘shouldered’ should be something heavy either in a concrete or a metaphorical sense, as in this case a duty or a position such as 政委 ‘cabinet member at large’. Further scrutiny of the dependency relations in (1b) shows that most of them are incorrect. Apart from the errors arising from Chinese word segmentation and part-of-speech tagging such as *nummod*(決定-4, 唐鳳說-1), *mark:clf*(唐鳳說-1, 起-2), the dependency relations *compound:nn*(決定-4, 當初-3), *nsubj*(扛-5, 決定-4), *det*(政委-8, 下-6), *dep*(下-6, 數位-7), *nmod:assmod*(初心-10, 政委-8), *dobj*(扛-5, 初心-10) are all incorrect.

(1)

(a). 唐鳳說/CD 起/M 當初/NN 決定/NN 扛/VV 下/DT 數位/CD 政委/NN 的/DEG 初心/NN'/PU

(b).

nummod (決定-4, 唐鳳說-1)
mark:clf (唐鳳說-1, 起-2)
compound:nn (決定-4, 當初-3)
nsubj (扛-5, 決定-4)
root (ROOT-0, 扛-5)
det (政委-8, 下-6)
dep (下-6, 數位-7)
nmod:assmod (初心-10, 政委-8)
case (政委-8, 的-9)
dobj (扛-5, 初心-10)
punct (扛-5, ' -11)

The same sentence was tested using SyntaxNet (cf. the output in (2)). As can be seen in (2), some of the labels of dependency relations such as *nsubj* (subject-verb), *dobj* (verb-object), and *nmod* (modifier-noun) are the same as those in Stanford parser. The performance of SyntaxNet seems better. However, there are still errors in part-of-speech tagging and dependency relations. Note that the third word 當初 ‘then’ is tagged as a noun and analyzed as the direct object (i.e. *dobj* in (2)) of the verb 說起 ‘said’, which is the second word in the sentence. This analysis is incorrect, as 當初 ‘then’ serves as a temporal adverb, which modifies the following verb 決定 ‘decided’. Moreover, the relation between the verb 扛下 ‘shouldered’ and 政委 ‘cabinet member at large’ is missing in the output of (2). The rest of the dependency relations are correct. For instance, the modifier-noun dependency relation *nmod*, which holds between the word 數位 ‘digital’ and 政委 ‘cabinet member at large’ is correct. Likewise, the relation *xcomp* between the verb 決定 ‘decided’ and its verb complement 扛下 ‘shouldered’ is also correct. Overall, the accuracy of SyntaxNet is significantly higher than that of Stanford parser according to our preliminary experiment. As Stanford parser and SyntaxNet are both multilingual parsers trained from the Penn Chinese Treebanks, we were interested in developing our own Chinese dependency parser

and comparing the performances of these different parsers. The parser with the best performance would then be used to identify Chinese dependency relations.

(2)

1	唐鳳	—	PROPN	NNP	fPOS=PROPN++NNP	4	nsubj	—
2	說起	—	VERB	VV	fPOS=VERB++VV	4	acl	— —
3	當初	—	NOUN	NN	fPOS=NOUN++NN	2	dobj	— —
4	決定	—	VERB	VV	fPOS=VERB++VV	0	ROOT	— —
5	扛下	—	VERB	VV	Case=Rel fPOS=PART++DEC	4	xcomp	—
6	數位	—	NOUN	NN	fPOS=NOUN++NN	7	nmod	— —
7	政委	—	NOUN	NN	fPOS=NOUN++NN	9	det	— —
8	的	—	PART	DEC	Case=Gen fPOS=PART++DEC	7	case:dec	
9	初	—	NOUN	NN	fPOS=NOUN++NN	5	dobj	

Developing a Chinese Dependency Parser and a Chinese Dependency Relations Database

The NLP resources used for developing our parser are CKIP Chinese word segmentation and tagging system (ckipsvr.iis.sinica.edu.tw) and Sinica Chinese Treebank 3.0 (treebank.sinica.edu.tw), both developed at CKIP, Academia Sinica. In addition, a large Chinese corpus was compiled for this study. It contains different genres of Chinese texts from Taiwan (Sinica Corpus, China Times Newspaper, and the data from PTT, the largest BBS in Taiwan) and China (Sina Website, People’s Daily News, Xinhua News). Most of the corpus data is obtained by writing programs to crawl the websites and extract the textual data. The purpose of including textual sources from Taiwan and China is to develop both traditional and simplified Chinese collocation checkers. In order to create a larger corpus, the simplified Chinese subcorpus was converted into traditional Chinese and merged with the traditional Chinese subcorpus. The total corpus size is over 0.1 billion words.

We used the Sinica Chinese treebank 3.0 as the training data and developed our own Chinese dependency parser based on Support Vector Machine (SVM). The method of automatically learning from data annotated with the labels we want to study is known as supervised machine learning. SVM is one of the most widely used supervised machine learning algorithms. Like other supervised machine learning algorithms, SVM learns to classify a new case based on the training data. Thus, the problem of deriving a dependency parser given a sentence can be recast as a classification problem, in which the program determines if any two words form a dependency relation based on the training data. If there exists a dependency relation between the two words, the program then chooses the most appropriate dependency relation among all the relations in light of the training data.

The essence of machine learning can be explained in simple statistics. If two syntactic categories such as determiners and verbs never form a dependency relation, the program learns this in the training stage. Whenever it encounters determiners and verbs, it predicts that no relation exists between the two categories. In addition to syntactic categories, we also need to consider other features such as individual words. These are two simple features that can be used in our machine learning task. The other features will be discussed later.

There are two widely used Chinese treebanks available, namely, the Penn Chinese Treebank and the Sinica Chinese Treebank. The Penn Chinese Treebank (cf. Xue et al. 2005) uses simplified Chinese, whereas the Sinica Chinese Treebank (Chen et al. 2003) uses traditional Chinese. In addition, their theoretical frameworks and tagsets are different. For instance, the syntactic structure trees

in the Penn Chinese Treebank use phrase labels drawn from Chomskyan syntactic theories such as IP (i.e. inflectional phrases equivalent to the traditional concept of sentences), whereas the Sinica Treebank is based on Information-based Case Grammar. As we wanted to develop a collocation checker for traditional Chinese first, we employed the Sinica Chinese Treebank as the training data.

The Sinica Chinese Treebank has 61,087 manually corrected Chinese syntactic structure trees with a total of 361,834 words. Unlike the Penn Chinese Treebank, which only uses periods, exclamation marks, and question marks as sentence boundaries, the Sinica Chinese Treebank includes commas as sentence boundaries. The Sinica Chinese Treebank is annotated with both syntactic and semantic information including parts-of-speech tags, phrasal categories, the head of the phrase, as well as the semantic roles and properties. The rich syntactic and semantic information encoded in the Sinica Chinese Treebank makes it well-suited for training a Chinese dependency parser. The format of the Sinica Chinese Treebank is exemplified in (3), whose vertical syntactic tree structure is shown in Figure 32.1. According to the Information-based Case Grammar, the head of each phrase is explicitly specified and there is no verb phrase in a sentence. Instead, the main verb (e.g. 威脅到 ‘threatened’ in Figure 32.1) is the head of a sentence. It is relatively straightforward to extract the dependency relations from the Sinica Chinese Treebank based on its syntactic and semantic information. If a verb is followed by a noun and both the verb and the noun are heads of their phrases, then the noun is the object of the verb. As illustrated in Figure 32.1, we can easily identify the main verb by searching the head of the sentence. If there is only one noun phrase before the main verb, the head of the noun phrase and the main verb will be identified as the subject-verb relation. Likewise, we are able to identify the other dependency relations such as modifier-noun and verb-adverb via the syntactic and semantic annotations.

- (3) S(theme:VP(Head:VC33:噴灑|theme:NP(Head:Nab:農藥))|evaluation:Dbb:只有|Head:VJ1:威脅到|goal:NP(property:Nab:生物|Head:Nad:多樣性))

Suppose there are m words in a sentence. There will be $m*(m-1)$ word pairs which might have dependency relations. With SVM, we are able to recast the problem of identifying dependency relations as a classification problem. The syntactic and semantic information annotated in the Sinica Chinese Treebank is employed to represent the dependency relations under SVM.

We used two SVM toolkits by Taku Kudo, namely TinySVM (chasen.org/~taku/software/TinySVM/) and YamCha (cf. Kudo and Matsumoto 2000), to implement our Chinese dependency parser. We have selected 10 features associated with each word pairs, including the two words in question, their positions, parts-of-speech, the distance between them, information of whether there is an intervening 的 DE or verbs between them, and the use of L, R, O tags which will be discussed in the next section.

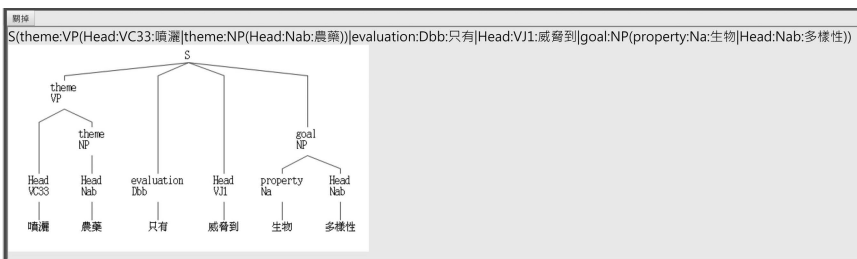


Figure 32.1 The vertical syntactic structure tree of (3) extracted from the Sinica Treebank website.

We processed the Sinica Chinese Treebank and converted it into the format which YamCha could use. Yamcha is a SVM toolkit which facilitates the training for NLP tasks such as part-of-speech tagging, noun phrase chunking, and shallow parsing. After training, it creates a classifier. In our task, the classifier can decide if any two words have a dependency relation and which type of dependency relation they have. Inspired by the Japanese dependency parser based on SVM proposed by Yamada and Matsumoto (2003), we encoded the dependency relations such as subject-verb, verb-object, modifier-noun, modifier-verb between words in the Sinica Chinese Treebank and used the information to train our own Chinese dependency parser. We employed three tags R, L, O to indicate the relation between any two words, in which R and L indicate the direction of the head and O suggests that the two words do not form any dependency relation. For instance, in the example in (4), 唐鳳 ‘Tang Feng’ and 說起 ‘said’ form the subject-verb relation and verb 說起 ‘said’ is the head of the dependency relation. The direction of the head is on the right, hence the symbol R. (4) is the partial output indicating the R, L, O tags for the sentence in (1).

(4)

唐鳳	說起	R
說起	決定	O
當初	決定	R
決定	扛下	L
扛下	數位 h	O
扛下	政委	L
扛下	心	O
數位	政委	R

We then used the output of the tags R, L, O as well as the part-of-speech tags to deduce all the grammatical dependency relations in a sentence. (5) is the output of our parser. The words in the first and the third column are word pairs in question. The symbols => and <=, derived from the tags R and L, suggest the direction for the head if the words (or phrases) can form a dependency relation. The last column shows the grammatical dependency relations identified by our parser, in which S,V, O, and ADV indicate subject, verb, object, adverb, respectively. For instance, 數位 ‘digital’ modifies 政委 ‘cabinet members at large’ and they form a noun phrase with the head on the right. The noun phrase is the object of the verb 扛下 ‘shouldered’ and they form a verb phrase, with the head on the left. Note that there is no error in word segmentation, part-of-speech tagging, and dependency relations. Compared with the output derived from Stanford parser in (1) and SyntaxNet in (2), our parser shows significant improvements. The performance of our dependency parser varies with the complexity of the input sentence. If the input is short and unambiguous, it can achieve relatively high accuracy.

(5)

唐鳳	=>	說起	SV
當初	=>	決定	ADV V
數位	=>	政委	MODIFIER N
扛下	<=	數位政委	V O
初	=>	心	MODIFIER N
扛下數位政委	=>	的	～的/地/得
扛下數位政委的	=>	心	MODIFIER N

To develop a collocation database, we compiled a large corpus of over 0.1 billion words containing articles from newspapers and social medias in Taiwan and China. This corpus is used as a reference corpus against which we test the learners' data.

Each sentence in the reference corpus has been processed by our parser to extract the dependency relations. Dependency relations such as subject-verb, verb-object, adjective-noun, verb-adverb, and modifier-noun are identified and stored in the dependency relations database. The tables of dependency relation database include the information of a headword, its part-of-speech, the dependency relations between the headword and its collocate, the collocate of the headword, as well as the part-of-speech of the collocate. (6) contains the information of the verb 買 'buy' in our Chinese dependency relations database, in which S and O refer to subject and object. The numbers in the parentheses indicate the frequency the co-occurrences. Of all the dependency relations involving the verb 買 'buy', the relation ADV 買 occurs most frequently with 31,356 occurrences.

(6)

買 ADV (7,861)
買 COMPLEMENT (559)
買 O (12,194)
ADV 買 (31,356)
S 買 (10,761)
V 買 (1,146)

Identifying Miscollocations

As foreign learners of Chinese do not have the intuition about the grammatical status of a Chinese sentence, it is very difficult for them to decide if a word combination is correct or not. Our collocation checker alerts learners when it detects potential errors. When a user inputs a Chinese sentence (cf. Figure 32.2), it is first parsed by our dependency parser. The output of our parser is then processed by a program that identifies all the dependency relations in the sentence and checks each of them in the Chinese dependency relations database. If the word pair constituting a given dependency relation is not attested in the Chinese dependency relations database, the word combination might be incorrect and needs to be scrutinized. Figure 32.3 is the output of our collocation checker. The input sentence is 我做了一個約會, which literally means 'I did an appointment'. As indicated in Figure 32.3, our collocation checker correctly identifies the miscollocation 做約會 'did an appointment'.

Since foreign-language learners tend to make collocation errors unconsciously, our system can alert them if it spots potential miscollocations. As illustrated in Figure 32.3, our system successfully detects the problematic word combination 做約會 'do an appointment, which

Chinese Collocation Checker

☒ 新浪網
 ☒ People (China)
 ☒ PTT
 ☒ 一千萬詞平衡
 ☒ 新華社
 ☒ Chinatimes (Taiwan)

我做了一個約會。

Check

Figure 32.2 The interface of our online Chinese collocation checker



Figure 32.3 The output of our collocation checker

constitutes a verb–object relation. In this case, there are two ways to look for the correct collocates. Users can explore any word in the problematic word combination (e.g. 做 ‘do’ or 約會 ‘appointment’ in Figure 32.3) to look for the collocates in the dependency relations database. Suppose they are sure that the collocation contains the keyword 約會 ‘appointment’. They can click its hyperlink, which automatically searches the verbs that occur in the pattern V約會 in our dependency relations database, as in (7a). The users are then presented with the output in (8), which ranks the verbal collocates of 約會 in terms of the frequency in the database. The English translations, which are absent in the output of the system, are added by the author. Note that (8) is just a partial list of the 70 verbs that take 約會 as object. Users can click the hyperlink of any collocate to view the example sentences containing the collocation as in (9).

In order to choose the most appropriate collocates, the users need to take the context into consideration and identify the collocates that convey the intended meaning and fit the context. For instance, while 取消 ‘cancel’ and 完成 ‘complete’ can serve as the verbal collocates of the noun 約會 ‘appointment’, these two verbs probably do not convey the learners’ original meanings.

Indeed, the task of selecting the most appropriate words in a given context is not easy for intermediate learners. It is challenging for learners even if they are aided with a corpus tool. Cheng and Gao (2016) provide empirical evidence that many lower-intermediate learners cannot find the correct collocates in a Chinese–English translation task involving a cloze test even if they have two corpus tools (an English monolingual collocation extraction program and a Chinese–English bilingual concordancer) at their disposal. The query logs of Cheng and Gao (2016) prove that learners use the Chinese–English bilingual concordancer more frequently than

monolingual collocation extraction program. This is perhaps not surprising given that intermediate learners' limited knowledge in vocabulary and syntax prevent them from effectively and efficiently making sense of monolingual authentic materials. Even if the learners can understand the examples, it will take them a lot of time to go through a long list of candidate words. For instance, there are 10,960 nouns that can occur in the pattern 做 O in (7b). It is very time-consuming to check each of them. What is worse is that learners that search this pattern are very likely to look for the answers in the wrong direction and end up finding nothing appropriate.

(7)

- (a). V 約會 (70)
- (b). 做 O (10960)

(8)

有 'have' (13) 想 'think' (7) 模擬 'simulate' (5) 沒有 'haven't' (4) 忙著 'be busy' (3) 去 'go' (2) 出來 'go out' (1) 來 'come' (1) 沒 'haven't' (1) 拍到 'videotaped' (1) 跑去 'go to' (1) 算 'count' (1) 外出 'go out' (1) 取消 'cancel' (2) 是 'is' (1) 準備 'prepare' (1) 開始 'start' (1) 影響 'affect' (1) 完成 'complete' (1)

(9)

1. 除非(Cbb) 跟(P) 朋友(Na) 有(V_2) 約會(Na) ,
2. 妳(Nh) 有(V_2) 約會(Na) , (COMMACATEGORY)
3. 奇雲(Nb) 說(VE) 他(Nh) 有(V_2) 約會(Na) ,
4. 她(Nh) 今晚(Nd) 有(V_2) 約會(Na) , (COMMACATEGORY)
5. 然後(D) 後天(Nd) 跟(P) 我(Nh) 的(DE) 醫生(Na) 有(V_2) 個(Nf) 約會(Na) 這樣(VH) , (COMMACATEGORY)

Previous studies have shown that bilingual concordancers can assist learners in better understanding English authentic materials. For instance, Fan and Xu (2002) reveal that their Chinese students of legal English access the Chinese translations predominately more often than the English authentic texts when using a bilingual Chinese-English concordancer. Cheng and Gao (2016) also have found the same pattern in the learners' query logs, suggesting that learners rely on the Chinese information to understand the English sentences in the bilingual concordancers. In order to help learners efficiently look for the appropriate collocates that convey their intended meanings, we thus propose using bilingual concordancers, which allow learners to retrieve bilingual examples by inputting their queries in either Chinese or the learners' first language. Bilingual concordancers have received increasing attention in recent years (cf. Chan and Liou 2005; Fan and Xu 2002; Gao 2011; Liou et al. 2006; Nerbonne 2000; Wang 2001; Wu et al. 2003). Several web tools have functions identical with or similar to Chinese-English bilingual concordancers, e.g. Microsoft Bing Dictionary (cn.bing.com/dict/?mkt=zh-cn), Linguee (www.linguee.com), Youdao Dictionary (www.youdao.com), to name just a few. Some of them support languages other than Chinese and English. For instance, Jukuu (www.jukuu.com) supports English, Chinese, and Japanese. Linguee (www.linguee.com) supports more than 20 languages. Our collocation checker can integrate with these web bilingual concordancers seamlessly. In the following, we will demonstrate why a bilingual concordancer is more efficient and effective than monolingual corpus tools in helping learners identify the correct collocations.

Take the CERT Chinese-English bilingual concordancer reported in Gao (2011) for instance. The first step of using it is to ensure that the English sentences correspond to their

Chinese translation equivalents. As the alignment of large parallel corpora is usually performed by computers automatically using a sentence-alignment algorithm, the result of bilingual sentence alignment is prone to errors. Based on the study of Gao (2011) and Cheng and Gao (2016), we can reasonably assume that high-intermediate learners can identify the translation equivalent of an English sentence without any difficulty, whereas low-intermediate learners can do so with some difficulty. Suppose the learners' intended meaning is 'make an appointment with a doctor'. The learners input the English phrase in the CERT Chinese-English bilingual concordancer but cannot find any example. At this point, the instructor may demonstrate a useful query strategy in which the definite and indefinite articles as well as singular and plural nouns can be switched if no example is found. By adopting this strategy, learners can refine their original query and input 'make an appointment with the doctor'. This time, they can find the examples in (10). After taking the meaning of each word as well as the syntax into consideration, learners can align the English phrase with their Chinese translation and conclude that the English expression 'make an appointment with a doctor' can be expressed in Chinese as 和醫生約好. Alternately, they can shorten the query and input 'make an appointment'. (11) is the output of the query which contains the English examples as well as their Chinese translations. Based on the bilingual examples, learners can identify 預約, 約, and 約好 as the translation equivalents of 'make an appointment'.

(10)

Today Cesarean surgery is commonplace and can save a great deal of effort. One need only determine the minute of birth, **make an appointment with the doctor**, and when the moment arrives, go lie down on the operating table. As if placing an order with Old Man Heaven, this method is favored by mothers and fathers who are unwilling to have their children lose at the starting line.

如今剖腹產手術普及，可省事多了，只要擇定時辰，**和醫生約好**，時候一到，往手術台上一躺就好了，彷彿向老天爺訂製的，自然大受不願讓孩子輸在起跑點上的父母們青睞。

(11)

When R.O.C. citizens make an appointment they must usually give a deposit, but many hospitals waive the requirement toward overseas Chinese as a special privilege.

國人若預約，通常要繳訂金；許多醫院對華僑有免收訂金的辦法，算是一種優待。

'If a student wants to talk to us, there's no need to make an appointment—just knock on the door and come right in'.

學生要找老師，根本不必先約好，只要敲了門就進去」，吳耀祖說。

You make an appointment to meet a volunteer from a gay organization at a gay coffee shop in Kungkuan.

你與同志團體的義工約在公館的一家同志咖啡館見面。

The advantages of combining a collocation checker and a bilingual concordancer are obvious. Learners can input an expression in their first language and identify the translation equivalents in the target language more efficiently, facilitating the corrections of miscollocations based on their intended meanings. Consider the collocates in (8) derived from monolingual corpora and those in (11). The collocates found via a bilingual concordancer better fit the context and the learners' intended meanings. This can be evidenced by the collocation 有約會 'have an

appointment', which is attested in the corpus and suggested by the monolingual collocation tool (cf. (9)). However, if learners correct the miscollocation in Figure 32.3 by choosing the collocation 有約會 'have an appointment', this will result in an incorrect sentence 他有了一個約會 'He had an appointment'. While the collocation 有約會 'have an appointment' is unproblematic, the addition of the aspectual marker 了 in the wider context makes the sentence very odd. This suggests that a collocation that is attested in the corpus might be inappropriate in a wider context. As bilingual concordancers contain wider contexts than collocations and have bilingual information to assist learners in identifying the relevant examples that match their intended meanings, they better suit the learners' needs.

According to data-driven language learning (DDLL) theory (cf. Johns 1990), language learners are like language researchers. They are exposed to language data and are required to generalize the rules underlying the linguistic phenomena. For language learners, the production of a correct sentence presupposes the mastery of the vocabulary, phraseology, and syntax in a foreign language. Under our proposed approach, the collocation checker alerts the learners when it detects problematic word combinations. The learners then employ bilingual concordancers to retrieve bilingual examples containing the expressions they look for. After identifying the correct collocations in the target language, they may proceed to explore the extended collocations using bilingual concordancers. For instance, users may find that the synonyms 預約, 約, and 約好 have the following patterns of extended collocations (cf. the examples in (12)). When learners are able to extract extended collocations from bilingual concordancers, their ability to produce correct and idiomatic expressions will naturally develop.

(12)

- (a) (與/和 某人) 預約/約/約好 某一個時間 做某件事
'have an appointment with someone at sometime to do something'
- (b) 約/約好 某人某一個時間 做某件事
'have an appointment with someone at sometime to do something'
- (d) 與/和 某人有約
'have an appointment with someone'

Evaluations of the Proposed Method

The best way to test our system is to use a large error-tagged learner corpus of Chinese. The error-tagged TOCFL corpus compiled by Li-Ping Chang (tocfl.itc.ntnu.edu.tw:8080) (cf. Chang 2017) is a learner corpus for Chinese as a foreign language. It contains annotations of four major types of errors, namely, missing words (M), redundant words (R), incorrect word choices (S), and word order errors (W). In the following, we will evaluate our proposed system by testing it against the data from TOCFL.

There are several different types of collocation errors. In general, miscollocations which contain more than one type of errors are more difficult to detect. Consider for instance (13a), in which the word 結婚 'marry' involves not only a miscollocation but also incorrect part-of-speech. The word 結婚 'marry' is tagged as a verb by our parser, which analyzes the phrase 你們的結婚 'your marry' as an adverb followed by a verb (cf. (13b)). Because the learner inputs a word with incorrect part-of-speech, the parser was unable to produce a correct syntactic

structure. However, this does not prevent our system from detecting the anomaly of the phrase, as the dependency relation 你們的結婚 ‘your marry’ cannot be found in our Chinese dependency relations database. Note that there are 2,577 hits for the query of a dependency relation consisting of ADV 結婚 (cf. (13c)). However, none of the adverbs is 你們的, suggesting the potential problem of the phrase. The example in (13a) indicates that a miscollocation which also involves incorrect part-of-speech may also be detected by our system. Because the verb 結婚 is incorrectly used as a noun, unless the learner notices this problem, it will be almost impossible to rectify the error and retrieve the correct collocate. Furthermore, even if the user notices this problem and uses a different query, it is still not easy to find the correct collocate. For instance, there are 2,077 nouns in the pattern of 參加 O (i.e. 參加 ‘attend’ followed by an object). It is very time-consuming to go through this long list, part of which is included in (13e). Moreover, some of the users may be lost as to which direction is more plausible. For many learners, it is difficult to decide whether they should look for the adverb in the pattern in (13c) ADV 結婚 or the noun in the pattern 參加 O in (13d). The dilemma is inevitable if only monolingual corpora are used. In the worst case, the users might check each of the words and end up finding nothing appropriate in the context. The situation can be greatly improved with a bilingual concordancer. (14) is the output of the query ‘wedding’ in the CERT bilingual Chinese-English concordancer reported in Gao (2011). Based on the examples, learners can identify the correct word 婚禮. This will be more efficient than checking each of the candidates in a long list of words.

(13)

(a) 對不起我不能參加你們的結婚。

‘I am sorry that I cannot attend your wedding’.

(b) 你們的 => 結婚 ADV V

(c) ADV 結婚 (2577)

(d) 參加 O (2077)

(e) 活動 ‘activity’ (146) 比賽 ‘contest’ (123) 會議 ‘meeting’ (37)

考試 ‘exam’ (34) 研討會 ‘workshop’ (26) 婚禮 ‘wedding ceremony’ (25) 同學會 ‘reunion’ (22) 演唱會 ‘concert’ (21) 舞會 ‘party’ (19) 聚會 ‘gathering’ (18) 畢業典禮 ‘commencement ceremony’ (16) 喪 ‘funeral’ (11) 決賽 ‘final’ (11) 革命 ‘revolution’ (11) 演出 ‘performance’ (11) 葬禮 ‘funeral’ (11) 奧運 ‘Olympic games’ (9) 盛會 ‘important event’ (9) 大會 (8) 座談會 ‘forum’ (8) 派對 ‘party’ (7) 亞運 ‘Asian games’ (7) 喜宴 ‘wedding banquet’ (5) 典禮 ‘ceremony’ (5) 課程 ‘course’

(14).

‘But remember, Jane, you promised to wake with me the night before my **wedding**’.

“你答應過，在婚禮前夜同我一起守夜。”

‘The third day from this must be our **wedding**-day, Jane.

“從今天算起第三天，該是我們舉行婚禮的日子了，簡。”

The **wedding** is to take place quietly, in the church down below yonder; and then I shall waft you away at once to town.

婚禮在下面那個教堂裡舉行。然後，我就立刻一陣風把你送到城裡。

Arguably the most efficient way to find the correct word in a given context is to input its phrasal queries in a bilingual concordancer. This will filter out many irrelevant words and display only the most relevant bilingual examples. However, it has a side effect. The longer the query, the fewer bilingual examples it will retrieve. To avoid zero hit of the query, it seems advisable to use more than one bilingual concordancer when using a phrasal query. For instance, the CERT Chinese-English bilingual concordancer does not retrieve any example containing the phrase 'attend a meeting'. However, as indicated in (15), the Youdao Dictionary has several bilingual examples containing the phrase 'attend a wedding'.

Compared with the examples from conventional bilingual concordancers, the examples in Linguee and the Youdao Dictionary are easier to find. There is no need to look for and extract the Chinese translation equivalent of the phrase 'attend a wedding' from long and numerous bilingual examples, as the phrase 'attend a wedding' and its Chinese translation equivalent 參加婚禮 are shown on the top of the webpage separated from the other examples. Combining the advantages of traditional dictionaries and bilingual concordancers, Linguee and the Youdao Dictionary seem more appropriate for most intermediate learners.

(15)

attend a wedding 參加婚禮

attend a wedding party 參加婚禮

Some reports say that she arrived in Spain only three weeks ago, apparently to **attend a wedding**.

一些报道称，她在三周前才来到西班牙，是为了**参加一个婚礼**。

article.yeeyan.org

Friends commented and thought she was wearing false eyelashes when she **attended a wedding** recently.

最近，在**参加一个婚礼**时朋友们都大加赞赏，都还以为假睫毛。

article.yeeyan.org

Theoretical Implications

There are several theoretical ramifications for the proposed Chinese collocation checker and its integration with bilingual concordancers. Gao (2011) provides empirical evidence that Taiwanese high-intermediate learners of English are able to correct their own errors and improve their Chinese-English translation tasks by using the CERT Chinese-English bilingual concordancer. Gao explores the theoretical implications of bilingual concordancers by relating them to two theories of second language acquisition, namely, the Comprehensible Input Hypothesis and the Comprehensible Output Hypothesis. Advocated by Krashen (1981), the Comprehensible Input Hypothesis proposes that second language acquisition takes place only when the language input is comprehensible to the learners and that learning takes place unconsciously. In contrast to the

Comprehensible Input Hypothesis, the Comprehensible Output Hypothesis proposed by Swain (1985) maintains that second language acquisition occurs when learners are able to produce comprehensible output. Gao (2011) argues that bilingual concordancers can make authentic materials in the target language more accessible to language learners in a way that would otherwise be very difficult for them. Parallel texts and bilingual concordancers may potentially make the input texts more comprehensible to learners, because whenever they have difficulties understanding a phrase, collocation, idiom, or even proverb in a text, they may consult bilingual concordancers, which are increasingly more comprehensive and available to language learners as technology advances. Likewise, bilingual concordancers may also help language learners produce comprehensible output. When learners do not know how to express an idea in the target language, they may retrieve the translation equivalent of a phrase by inputting it in their first language in a bilingual concordancer. Swain (1985) notes the importance of monitoring and the noticing effect in producing comprehensible output. Only when language learners monitor their linguistic output and notice their own errors will they make effort to correct them and eventually make their output comprehensible. However, as we know, many language learners are unable to monitor their own output. It is widely known that error correction by second language learners are very difficult if not impossible. Because of first-language interference, language learners make many errors unconsciously, particularly in word combinations and collocations.

Our proposed collocation checker may serve as a monitor, alerting language learners and drawing their attention to potential errors in word combinations and collocations in their output. In other words, our proposed collocation checker may ensure that the noticing effect occurs even when language learners are not conscious of their collocation errors. In our proposed approach, if language learners are able to look for expressions in their first language and identify their translation equivalent in a given context, they are likely to find the appropriate words, phrases, and collocations in the target language, thus correcting the mistakes and making their output comprehensible. This process of error correction based on data-driven language learning is analogous to the reflective function Swain (1985) proposes, because both require conscious effort and analytic ability. If our analysis is correct, our proposed framework of integrating a collocation checker with data-driven language learning may shed new light on second language acquisition theories such as the Comprehensible Input Hypothesis as well as the Comprehensible Output Hypothesis.

Conclusions and Future Research

In this chapter, we presented a Chinese collocation checker and its integration with bilingual concordancers in a data-driven language learning framework. We argued that new types of web-based bilingual concordancers such as Youdao Dictionary and Linguee have the advantages of both bilingual concordancers and bilingual dictionaries. Because it is easier to find the correct collocations, they are more suitable for learners. The proposed approach might help learners reduce collocation errors and develop learner autonomy. It has the potential advantages of alleviating teachers' burden in correcting students' Chinese miscollocations. The proposed system can also automatically collect and characterize the collocational differences used in learner and authentic corpora. This feature might have a positive impact on the teaching, learning, and research of miscollocations. Our proposed approach also has theoretical implications for the Comprehensible Input Hypothesis and the Comprehensible Output Hypothesis. The proposed Chinese collocation checker may serve as the monitor to detect potential miscollocations,

ensuring that the noticing effect occurs when there is a miscollocation. Its integration with bilingual concordancers in a data-driven language learning framework may facilitate the correction of miscollocations and thus make the output more comprehensible.

It is widely known that foreign-language learners often adopt the avoidance strategy. They deliberately avoid expressions that they are not familiar with. With a bilingual concordancer, which supports both their first language and target language, they are more likely to find, use, and master authentic expressions in the target language. The integration of a bilingual concordancer and a collocation checker may also increase the learners' autonomy and their knowledge of phraseology in the target language. The proposed approach may systematically give learners more exposure to unfamiliar authentic expressions in the target language required in their communications.

There are a number of limitations in our approach. Our syntax-based collocation checker has a number of weaknesses. As with the other collocation extraction programs, our program is not entirely reliable. Our approach fails (1) when our program does not derive the correct Chinese word segmentation or dependency relations (2) or when certain correct collocations do not occur in the reference corpus. Analyses of incorrect dependency relations typically result from sentences which have ellipsis or complicated structures. Some errors in the dependency relations are caused by the incorrect identification of the head noun in a noun phrase. Another limitation to our approach is that a collocation may be inappropriate in a wider context even if all the smaller parts seem acceptable.

While our proposed system for identifying collocation errors are not completely reliable, they might help learners improve their writing if the tool is used properly. Our future research includes (1) qualitative and quantitative evidence of the learning effects of the proposed system in second language writing; (2) development of an intelligent system that can not only detect but also correct collocation errors; and (3) investigation of the relationships between miscollocation types, error gravity, and learners' proficiency levels.

References

English References

- Basil, R. and Pazienza, M. T. (1992) 'A shallow syntactic analyzer to extract word associations from corpora'. *Literary and Linguistic Computing* 7: 113–123.
- Benson, M. (1989) 'The Structure of the collocational dictionary'. *International Journal of Lexicography* 2(1): 1–14.
- Chan, T.-P. and Liou, H.-C. (2005) 'Effects of web-based concordancing instruction on EFL students' learning of verb-noun collocations'. *Computer Assisted Language Learning* 18(3): 231–250.
- Chang, Y.-C., Chang, J., Chen, H.-J. and Liou, H.-C. (2008) 'An automatic collocation writing assistant for Taiwanese EFL learners: A case of corpus-based NLP technology'. *Computer Assisted Language Learning* 21(3): 283–299.
- Chen, H.-J., Wu, J.-C., Yang, T.-Y. and I.-T. P. (2016) 'Developing and evaluating a Chinese collocation retrieval tool for CFL students and teachers'. *Computer Assisted Language Learning* 29(1): 21–39.
- Chen, K.-J., Huang, C.-R., Chen, F.-Y., Luo, C.-C., Chang, M.-C., Chen, C.-J. and Gao, Z.-M. (2003) 'Sinica Treebank: Design criteria, representational issues and implementation'. In Anne Abeille (ed.), *Treebanks Building and Using Parsed Corpora*, 231–248. Dordrecht: Kluwer.
- Cheng, S.-P. and Gao, Z.-M. (2016) 'Exploring intermediate learners' use of two corpus tools in a contextualized lexical translation task'. *English Teaching & Learning*, 40(3): 1–40.
- Church, K. and Hanks, P. (1990) 'Word association norms, mutual Information, and lexicography'. *Computational Linguistics* 16(1): 22–29.

- Church, K. et al. (1991) 'Parsing, word associations, and typical predicate-argument relations'. In Masaru Tomita (ed.), *Current Issues in Parsing Technology*. Netherlands: Kluwer.
- Church, K. et al. (1994) 'Lexical substitutability'. In B. T. S. Atkins and A. Zampolli (eds.), *Computational Approaches to the Lexicon*, 153–177. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- CKIP Chinese word segmentation and tagging system. Retrieved from <http://ckipsvr.iis.sinica.edu.tw>
- Cowie, A. (1981) 'The treatment of collocations and idioms in learner's dictionaries'. *Applied Linguistics* 2(3): 223–235.
- de Marneffe, M.-C., MacCartney, B. and Manning, C. (2006) 'Generating typed dependency parses from phrase structure parses'. In Proceedings of the 5th International Conference on Language Resources and Evaluation (LREC) 2006.
- Dunning, T. (1993) 'Accurate methods for the statistics of surprise and coincidence'. *Computational Linguistics* 19: 61–74.
- Fan, M. and Xu, X. (2002) 'An evaluation of an online corpus for the self-learning of legal English'. *System* 30(1): 47–63.
- Gao, Z.-M. (2011) 'Exploring the effects and use of a Chinese-English bilingual concordancer'. *Computer Assisted Language Learning* 24: 255–275.
- Gao, Z.-M. (2014) 'Automatic extraction of English collocations and their Chinese-English bilingual examples: A computational tool for bilingual lexicography'. *Concentric Studies in Linguistics*, 40(1): 95–121.
- Jian, J.-Y., Chang, Y.-C., Chang, J.-S. (2004) 'Tango: Bilingual collocational concordancer'. Poster presented at the Annual Conference of the Association for Computational Linguistics. Spain: Barcelona.
- Johns, T. (1990) 'From printout to handout: Grammar and vocabulary teaching in the context of data-driven learning'. *CALL Austria* 10: 14–34.
- Jukuu. (2013) Retrieved from www.jukuu.com
- Kilgariff, A. et al. (2004) 'The Sketch Engine'. In Proceedings of EURALEX, Lorient, France.
- Kudo, T. and Matsumoto, Y. (2000) 'Japanese dependency structure analysis based on Support Vector Machines'. *2000 Joint SIGDAT Conference on Empirical Methods in Natural Language Processing and Very Large Corpora*.
- Krashen, S. (1981) *Second Language Acquisition and Second Language Learning*. New York: Prentice Hall.
- Lewis, M. (1993) *The Lexical Approach: The State of ELT and a Way Forward*. Boston: Thompson/Heinle.
- Li, W., Lu, Q. and Liu, J. (2007) 'Chinese typed collocation extraction using corpus-based syntactic collocation patterns'. Proceedings of 2007 IEEE International Conference on Natural Language Processing and Knowledge Engineering, 248–255.
- Lin, D. (1998) 'Extracting collocations from text corpora'. First Workshop on Computational Terminology, Montreal, Canada.
- Linguee. (2010) Retrieved from www.linguee.com
- Liou, H.-C., Chang, J. S., Chen, H.-J., Lin, C.-C., Liaw, M.-L., Gao, Z.-M., Jang, J.-S., Yeh, Y.-L., Chuang, C. and You, G.-N. (2006) 'Corpora processing and computational scaffolding for a web-based English learning environment: The Candle project'. *CALICO Journal* 24(1).
- Manning, C. and Schütze, H. (1999) *Foundations of Statistical Natural Language Processing*. Cambridge: The MIT Press.
- Martin, W. et al. (1983) 'On the processing of a text corpus: From textual data to lexicographical information'. In R. R. K. Hartman (eds.), *Lexicography: Principles and Practice*, 77–88. New York: Academic Press.
- Microsoft Bing Dictionary. (2010) Retrieved from <http://cn.bing.com/dict/?mkt=zh-cn>
- Nation, P. (2001) *Learning Vocabulary in Another Language*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Nation, P. and Webb, S. (2011) *Researching and Analyzing Vocabulary*. Boston: Heinle.
- Nerbonne, J. (2000) 'Parallel texts in computer-assisted language learning'. In Jean Veronis (ed.), *Parallel Text Processing*, 354–369. Dordrecht and Boston: Kluwer.
- Nesselhauf, N. (2005) *Collocations in a Learner Corpus*. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Schmitt, N. (2000) *Vocabulary in Language Teaching*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Schmitt, N. (2010) *Researching Vocabulary: A Vocabulary Research Manual*. London: Palgrave Macmillan.
- Seretan, V. (2011) *Syntax-Based Collocation Extraction*. Dordrecht: Springer Science Business Media B.V.

- Shei, C.-C. and Pain, H. (2000) 'An ESL writer's collocation aid'. *Computer-Assisted Language Learning* 13(2): 167–182.
- Sinclair, J. (1987) 'Collocations: A progress report'. In Ross Steele and Terry Threadgold (eds.), *Language Topics: Essays in Honour of Michael Halliday*, 319–332. Amsterdam and Philadelphia: John Benjamins.
- Sinica Chinese Treebank 3.0. (2004) Retrieved from <http://treebank.sinica.edu.tw>
- Smadja, F. (1993) 'Retrieving collocations from text: Xtract'. *Computational Linguistics* 19(1): 143–177.
- Stanford Parser. (2014) Retrieved from <http://webdocs.cs.ualberta.ca/~lindek/Stanford.htm>
- SyntaxNet. (2017) github.com/tensorflow/models/tree/master/research/syntaxnet
- Swain, M. (1985) 'Communicative competence: Some roles of comprehensible input and comprehensible output in its development'. In S. Gass and C. Madden (eds.), *Input in Second Language Acquisition*, 235–256. New York: Newbury House.
- TinySVM. (2002) Retrieved from <http://chasen.org/~taku/software/TinySVM/>
- Wang, L. (2001) 'Exploring parallel concordancing in English and Chinese'. *Language Learning & Technology* 5(3): 174–184.
- Wu, J.-C. et al. (2003) 'TotalRecall: A bilingual concordance for computer-assisted translation and language Learning'. Proceedings of the 41th Association of Computational Linguistics. Japan: Sapporo.
- Xu, R, Lu, Q. and Li, Y. (2003) 'An automatic Chinese collocation extraction algorithm based on lexical statistics'. Proceedings of International Conference on Natural Language Processing and Knowledge Engineering, 321–326. Beijing, China.
- Xue, N, Xia, F, Chiou, F.-D. and Palmer, M. (2005) 'The Penn Chinese TreeBank: Phrase structure annotation of a large corpus'. *Natural Language Engineering* 11(2): 207–238.
- Yamada, H. and Matsumoto, Y. (2003) 'Statistical dependency analysis with support vector machines'. Proceedings of the 8th International Workshop on Parsing Technologies (IWPT), 195–206. April 2003. France: Nancy.
- YamCha. (2005) Yet Another Multipurpose CHunk Annotator Retrieved from <http://chasen.org/~taku/software/yamcha/>

Chinese References

- Chang, Li-Ping. 張莉萍 (2017) 'Error tagging in the TOCFL learner corpus'. TOCFL 學習者語料庫的偏誤標記. In Hao-Jan Chen (eds.), *Corpora and Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language*, 159–196. Taipei: Higher Education Publishing Co. 陳浩然 (主編). 語料庫與華語教學第七章, 頁159–196。台北市: 高等教育出版社。
- Jukuu句酷例句搜索 www.jukuu.com
- TOCFL learner corpus TOCFL學習者語料庫檢索系統 <http://tocfl.itc.ntnu.edu.tw:8080>
- Youdao Dictionary. 有道辭典. www.youdao.com

Business Chinese Instruction

Past, Present, and Future¹

Fangyuan Yuan

Introduction

In response to the practical demand of future and current business professionals to be equipped with applied skills in the Chinese language and a better understanding of Chinese culture in the business context, and to a pedagogical call for a greater emphasis on language development in contextualized instruction, business Chinese (BC) teaching and learning has steadily developed over the past three decades, and is now solidly established as an important curricular option in the field of teaching Chinese as a second/foreign language. To advance the field in both scope and sophistication, this chapter summarizes its past evolution and current practice, and proposes its future direction. The chapter starts with a historical overview of business Chinese instruction over the years, particularly in the United States and China, with a specific focus on BC textbook development in terms of content coverage and pedagogical strategy. The second part explores the questions of what, how, and to whom BC courses have been and should be taught, by referring to research studies and language teaching principles. The third part draws on the theoretical frameworks of the case-study method and task-based language teaching, and illustrates the current trends with a teaching plan developed around the case 'KFC's localization in China'. The chapter concludes with some recommendations for future development.

A Historical Perspective

An Overview

Business Chinese instruction was started in the early 1980s, in both the United States and China, when China had just opened the door to the outside world after years of isolation. The first landmark on the road is the publication of the first batch of BC textbooks: *Business Chinese* (Wang, Liu and Kao 1982) by Stanford University and *Business Chinese 500* (Beijing Language Institute and Beijing Institute for Foreign Trade 1982) by Beijing Sinolingua Press. Over the past few decades, business Chinese teaching and learning has developed steadily along with the rapid pace of China's economic growth, and currently has become an integral part of Chinese

curriculums in many schools. Numbers and facts revealed from several survey studies illustrate this evolution.

United States

Over the years, three cross-language surveys were conducted pertaining to the teaching and learning of foreign languages for special purposes (LSP) in the institutions of higher education in the United States (Grosse 1985; Grosse and Voght 1991; Long and Uscinski 2012). Among the schools that participated in these surveys, not much change over the years was found in the percentage of LSP courses as opposed to the generic language courses, which are usually taught through the literature and cultural content: 62 percent out of 280 institutions in 1983, 58 percent out of 328 in 1988, and 59 percent out of 173 in 2011, respectively. Nevertheless, an upward trend has been identified with LSP Chinese courses, with a zero in 1983, 1 percent in 1988, and 15 percent in 2011. Among the 21 reported LSP Chinese courses in the 2011 survey, 16 were business Chinese, with additional eight departments that planned to offer the course in the near future. More or less resonantly, three surveys specifically about BC education were conducted in 2006, 2009, and 2012/2014. Chen (2012) reported that 27 American colleges and universities offered or planned to offer business Chinese in 2006, and this number increased to 30 in 2009. The survey conducted by S. Li, L. Wang and J. Wang (2013) revealed that 21 institutions offered 39 credit-bearing BC courses in 2011, but these two numbers were adjusted to 38 and 60 respectively later (Li 2016: 196). Although these survey results may not be definitive due to their data collection limitations such as moderate response rates, a valuable message can be obtained that BC education in the United States has experienced a steady growth from a zero in 1983 to the present days.

Some insights about these courses have also been uncovered. S. Li et al. (2013) reported that most BC courses were taught at the advanced level (84.6%), while the remaining at the intermediate level (10.3%) and entry level (5.1%). Among the 21 schools surveyed, fewer than half offered BC as a stand-alone course, while most others two-semester consecutive courses. There are some exceptions though. The University of Hawai'i at Manoa was reported to have a three-year BC program with courses offered at the beginning, intermediate, and advanced levels (H. Wang 2014). The University of Pennsylvania where I used to teach offers four consecutive BC courses at the third- and fourth-year levels. In addition, this school also has a two-year special MBA program for advanced Chinese learners, and two beginning BC courses, one of which is an online course for pre-MBA working professionals. BC is also taught in other types. For instance, it is offered at some Chinese flagship programs in a semi-immersion manner taught by both language faculty and business school faculty. Some liberal arts colleges offer BC once every two years, such as Boston College and Wake Forest University, due to the limited space in their curriculums. Some institutions have established BC internship programs in China, which allow learners to apply skills and knowledge gained from classrooms to the real world, such as Columbia University and the MBA Chinese Program of the University of Pennsylvania.

Aside from these advances, there are other accomplishments in BC education. Since the late 1990s, with the support of the Center for International Business Education and Research (CIBER) at various institutions and other public and institutional venues, bi-annual conferences on BC instruction have been held, where pedagogical experience is exchanged and teacher training workshops conducted. A business Chinese case competition has been held every year at Brigham Young University since 2010. A special-interest WeChat group on LSP has been formed, where information and experience are shared in a casual manner. Textbooks authored

by American scholars have always taken the lead with innovations in content coverage and instructional approach; this topic will be discussed in detail below.

China

Relatively speaking, BC instruction in China has been faster- and more expansively developing, largely due to the immediate market demand from local Chinese companies and China branches of international companies that need to hire bilingual business professionals with sufficient language skills in Chinese and cultural knowledge of China. According to an annual report from the University of International Business and Economics (2011) (abbreviated as UIBE 2011) in Beijing, about one-third of foreign students studying Chinese in China plan to enter China-related business sectors. BC-oriented courses attract the largest number of students by surpassing other LSP Chinese courses such as tourist Chinese, medicine Chinese, and science/technology Chinese (15–16). This report, as well as several other journal articles (e.g. Zhang 2006), traced the history of BC education in China. In 1988, the first BC courses were offered at the Beijing Language Institute (now known as the Beijing Language and Culture University, BLCU) for advanced learners. In 1993, UIBE established a bachelor program in international trade for foreign students, and that program was expanded to a Masters' program in 1996 and Doctorate program in 1998. Two years later, BLCU also started to award bachelor degrees in business Chinese. In 2007, degree-granting programs were founded in more than 20 first-tier universities (Zhang 2007) and later expanded to some second-tier universities, such as Hangzhou Normal University (personal contact). These degree programs usually provide BC courses in series at different proficiency levels, for the development of various language skills (e.g. listening, speaking), and in adoption of a range of business topics (e.g. macroeconomics, international trade). Currently, almost all Chinese universities that have Chinese-as-a-second-language programs offer business Chinese courses.

The rapid development of BC education in China should also be attributed to the government support. For example, publications of some BC textbook series are funded by the government agencies at various levels; a national proficiency-based Business Chinese Test consisting of writing and speaking components is administered by the Confucius Institute Headquarters (Hanban); a list of business Chinese vocabulary was developed for the purpose of standardizing BC instruction and assessment (cited in An and Shi 2017); and business Chinese bases have been established in Beijing and Shanghai, whose primary missions are to train BC instructors, develop teaching materials, and sponsor BC related conferences. In summary, BC instruction in China manifests itself in a wider array of courses and programs and has evidenced a full-fledged growth.

To provide a more complete picture about the BC instruction in the United States and China, Appendix 1 lists some representative BC courses offered in different instructional contexts.

Business Chinese Textbooks

Textbooks constitute a primary source for classroom learners and provide teachers with instructional frameworks to design and implement curriculums. The publications of BC textbooks over the years can be seen as the footprints of the BC evolution in terms of content and pedagogy. According to an incomplete list published on the Fudan University webpage updated in May, 2016, more than 130 BC textbooks had been published by then. With a close examination, distinctive features can be identified with the books published in different periods of time.

1980s

At the early stage of China's open-door policy from the late 1970s to early 1990s, trade activities flourished between Chinese and foreign enterprises. Foreign business people interested in exporting and importing goods to and from China exhibited an urgent need to study the Chinese language and learn about China's special regulations and policies governing foreign trade, bureaucratic systems for import/export, and unique business culture. As a response to this demand, in 1982, the Stanford University Press published a textbook entitled *Business Chinese*, whose text presents China's economic system, trade policies, and institutional organizations back then. In China, the first BC textbook was also published in 1982 entitled *Business Chinese 500* by Sinolingua in Beijing. This book is more like a self-learning handbook developed surrounding concrete situations that occur in international trade contexts; such a layout established a thematic framework for later BC textbooks. The prominent weakness shared by the first-generation BC textbooks is that not many exercises are developed for language reinforcement purposes.

1990s

The last decade of the twentieth century witnessed a rapid economic development in China. It also saw the first wave of BC textbook publications. According to a list compiled by Chen (1998), about 20 textbooks were published between 1990 and 1998, targeted at learners of different proficiency levels and aimed at developing varied language skills. Nevertheless, the majority of the BC textbooks published during this period employed international trade as the thematic content. Take *Business Chinese* (L. Li and G. Li 1990) as an example. Twenty lessons are sequenced thematically to follow the daily schedule of an Australian trade organization visiting China from airport arrival to departure for home. Other distinctive features include that lessons are dialogue-based and exercises language-focused, reflecting the teaching principles of audio-lingualism popular during the 1950–1970s in general foreign-language teaching; few content-based communicative activities can be found.

2000s

The real peak in BC textbook publication came in the first decade of the twenty-first century when China entered the World Trade Organization with economic reforms instilled in almost all business sectors. This period of time also saw the introduction of new teaching and learning theories rooted in second language acquisition, including content-based and task-based language teaching (Yuan 2006). Under these influences, a new generation of BC textbooks featured the following: (1) Textbooks writers, mostly from the United States, break away from the convention of employing international trade as the thematic content, but use a wider range of business topics instead; for example, macro-economic environment (Guo 2003; Yuan 2003), business culture (Feng, Dai and Chen 2006), and business case studies (Yuan 2005); (2) New teaching principles are integrated into the development of lesson format and exercises, such as task-based language teaching (Guan 2003; Yuan 2005) and case-study method (Yuan 2005); and (3) Series of BC books began to appear on the market to meet the demand of sequential BC offerings in degree programs in China (e.g. Zhang 2005).

2010s-Present

This decade essentially continues the tradition established in the previous one in terms of business content and pedagogy (e.g. Chen, Tang and Levin 2012) and has seen the new editions

of some highly rated books with updated content accompanied with more communicative activities (e.g. Guan 2018; Yuan 2020). A few new additions are developed for more specialized target markets; e.g. Shi and Huang's book (2015) was designed for the students of Columbia University to do internship in China. Some textbook series have continued expanding. For instance, the series of *New Silk Road Business Chinese* edited by X. Li first appeared in 2009 and now has 22 books intended for learners at the beginning, intermediate, and advanced levels, targeting at different language skills (e.g. listening, reading, and writing), and designed for varied types of courses or programs (e.g. regular college offerings; short-term programs for working professionals).

Despite the remarkable advances as summarized above, criticisms about BC textbooks have never stopped, including discrepancies between textbook content and learner needs, lack of pragmatic training, shortage of communicative tasks, improper English translations of the texts, and etc. In the next section, some of the issues will be addressed in a more elaborative manner.

Needs-Responsive Instruction: What, How, and When

Literally speaking, **Business Chinese** is a combination of 'BUSINESS' and 'CHINESE', hence entailing a dual layer of instructional foci. Chen (1998) figuratively described this dual goal as the two poles on a continuum, along which any kind of combinations of the two can be a representation of a BC course. Nevertheless, people in the field have always wondered and striven to answer the questions of what specific 'business' contents should be included, what 'Chinese' knowledge and skills should be developed, and in what ways these two foci can be more effectively and efficiently balanced in BC courses. Dudley-Evans and St. John (1998) maintained that, due to the practical nature of LSP courses (such as BC), learners' needs should be determined before locating teaching materials and developing pedagogical methods in order to enable needs-responsive instruction. In the following, these questions will be explored in relation to the research results of needs analyses, textbook analyses, and teaching and learning theories.

What to Teach

Business Content: Medium to Teach Chinese

BUSINESS, the modifier of the term 'Business Chinese', is an umbrella word that can encompass any 'activities of making, buying, and selling goods, or services' (Merriam-Webster Dictionary); as such, it is no wonder that business schools offer hundreds of courses to teach different aspects of business operations, including macro/microeconomics, marketing, banking, trading, business ethics, and so on. In a sense, any topics that are related to business operations can be chosen as the curricular content for BC courses. The question is what our learners need.

With an aim to investigate what business content would be more needs-responsive for BC courses, H. Wang (2011) interviewed 20 business people in different sectors and 50 past and current BC students at the University of Hawaii. She also analyzed the content coverage of 44 textbooks widely used in both China and the United States. Her research results revealed a striking discrepancy between the content coverage of these textbooks and the needs reported by her interviewees: a large number of textbooks used international trade as business content, whereas only 4 percent of the past students ended up working in this area, with the others pursuing their careers in other areas such as consulting, banking, advertising, or marketing. H. Wang, thereby, stated in a critical tone that our BC students were actually learning Chinese

through the medium of ‘fictitious conversations . . . fabricated by textbook authors according to preconceived notions of the needs of the textbook users. . . (which) de-emphasize the needs of the learners’ (28). Zhang (2006) came up with similar findings, reporting that among the 22 graduates with business Chinese degrees from Beijing Language and Culture University he had interviewed, only 10 worked in the areas related to international trade, while the others in the fields of logistics, management, sales, and English/Chinese translation. A few other course-based surveys further confirmed the findings. For instance, Yuan (2007) distributed a questionnaire on the first day in her third and fourth-year BC courses of about 70 students at the University of Pennsylvania, and found that most students planned to pursue careers in investment banking and consulting related to China and desired to learn more about China’s stock market and market entry policies.

These above research results provide us with an answer to the question of ‘what to teach’ in terms of business coverage, that is, a broader range of business topics, instead of one or two specific areas such as international trade. As noted in the previous section, starting from the mid 2000s, some textbook writers from the United States began to use general thematic topics to develop their books, such as product localization, international mergers and acquisitions, and branding strategies; these books were found to be on top of the most-adopted textbook list according to a survey conducted by Li (2016) among BC instructors in the United States. Likewise, most newly published textbooks series by Chinese scholars have expanded their scope of content coverage and used an extensive range of business topics to adapt to the needs of BC students in China, who begin their BC education with various linguistic backgrounds, different proficiency levels, and diverse career plans. Currently, the general trend in the field is to use business cases as curricula content, as they can encompass different aspects of business operations across sectors; this topic will be further discussed in the next section.

Despite the above call for the use of a wider range of business themes, it should also be noted that there are still a small number of BC courses that are intended for working professionals from a specific business area. In situations like this, specialized business content tends to be a better fit. For example, if a BC course is designed for a group of business professionals from a logistics company that is about to start business in China, thematic topics related to logistics should be chosen so that the particular needs of these learners can be legitimately satisfied.

Language Knowledge and Skills

CHINESE, the core of the term ‘Business Chinese’, can refer to any linguistic aspects of the Chinese language including phonology, lexis, syntax, pragmatics, and discourse, as well as language skills such as listening, speaking, reading, and writing. Chen (2012) proposed that what differentiates BC from generic Chinese is that its linguistic focus should be on business terminology, typical discourse found in business activities, and language skills needed in business interactions. Regarding this topic, several studies have been reported.

Guan (2017) interviewed 29 American students who would go to or had just returned from China and discovered that the first-language skills these students were eager to learn was speaking skills in Chinese. Zhang (2006) confirmed Guan’s finding and identified the following skills needed by the students he had interviewed: (1) language abilities to do business negotiations including bargaining and seeking cooperation; (2) skills to exchange information including introducing one’s company and resolving differences in business settings; (3) survival skills such as shopping, asking for directions, seeing a doctor, taking a taxi, and etc.; and (4) social skills for greetings, apologies, congratulations, and etc. Yuan (2007), however, came up with somewhat different results. She conducted a survey in three advanced business Chinese classes and found

that her students prioritized advanced reading skills rather than personal and social skills, as they would have to read company documents to get firsthand information as future investment bankers or consultants. The above mixed results may indicate that our learners differ in learning needs, depending on where they are (i.e. China or America), professional interests, and Chinese proficiency levels. H. Wang (2013) offers a sensible proposal with respect to what language skills should be focused on in BC courses at different levels: (1) Beginning BC classes should emphasize applied language skills so that learners can interact with Chinese colleagues in formal and informal settings; (2) Intermediate courses should further develop these skills but add reading and writing skills on generic topics so that students can learn to handle daily office errands such as email exchanges; (3) In addition to these skills, advanced courses should focus on language ability in more specialized business areas, depending on what learners need. Moreover, both Zhang (2006) and H. Wang (2011) stressed the importance in developing learners' pragmatic competence since socially and linguistically appropriate communication plays an important role in business success.

While the above research findings and pedagogical proposals shed some light onto the question of what language skills should be taught in BC courses, we have to admit that it is not feasible for a single textbook, a single course, or even a sequence of courses to cover so many language functions in different business contexts as listed above. One way to solve the problem is that we instructors strive to develop students' learning strategies so that they can continue Chinese learning after graduation; for example, word-formation knowledge in typical BC vocabulary and terminology, awareness of pragmatic differences between Chinese and their mother tongue, and macro and micro reading skills to grasp the gist of formal business readings, among others.

How to Teach

In contrast to generic Chinese courses, BC combines business and Chinese in teaching. As such, Chinese is taught through the medium of business content while business knowledge is developed in the process of language learning. If designed and conducted in a pedagogically sound manner, BC courses can provide countless opportunities for students to learn the language in a range of business contexts. In this regard, LSP experts have called for the use of 'methodologies and activities of the target disciplines' (Fortanet-Gomez 2008: 12) 'geared to the professional goals' of the students (Grosse and Voght 1991: 182).

S. Wang (2012) analyzed the exercises and activities in five widely adopted intermediate BC textbooks by categorizing them into six types in accordance with the language skills focused: pronunciation, words, phrases, sentences, discourse, and communication. She also analyzed the intensity, density, and quality of each type in these chosen textbooks. Results revealed that three of the five textbooks primarily focus on developing discrete language skills out of context with about 70–80 percent exercises on pronunciation, vocabulary, words, and sentences. Only two books place more emphasis on language development at discourse and communication levels. Results also revealed that some textbooks do not specify the pedagogical objectives for the exercises they develop but exhibit certain levels of randomness. Another finding of this study is that most of these textbooks emphasize reading and writing skills but ignore listening and speaking. In brief, the ways in which language skills are presented and practiced among these textbooks are diverse in type and quality: some adopt a more holistic approach by teaching language in context, while others prefer a more analytical manner by focusing on linguistic explanations and pattern drills, the latter of which runs against the principles of LSP teaching, i.e. learning through doing in context.

Li (2016) observed the similar randomness in pragmatic training in BC textbooks. He noted that the ways in which pragmatic features (e.g. address terms; tone moderators) are presented and exercised among seven most popular BC textbooks are in a random manner that the full-fledged development of pragmatic competence can be hardly achieved. Such inconsistencies are also found with classroom teaching. In another study, Li et al. (2013) reported that BC instructors hold varied beliefs about teaching and adopt different instructional approaches, although all teachers being interviewed claimed to have used ‘tasks’ a great deal in classrooms. Since Li et al. did not report how these teachers interpreted the term ‘tasks’, it is hard to know whether they shared the same definition. This topic will be explored further in the next section.

Using technology as a supplementary tool or a major instructional platform is a common practice in BC instruction nowadays. Wu (2014) reported her experience in teaching an online elementary BC course for working professionals scattered around the world. One advantage she reported is that modern technology has helped extend teaching beyond the limits of the classroom and students can access teaching materials any time anywhere. One disadvantage is that instructors have to spend much time designing the course and rely too much on the reliability of the technology needed to implement the course. H. Wang (2014) shared her experience about teaching an advanced BC course by blending both face-to-face and online instruction. Her students reported that online teaching allowed them to adjust learning pace, have more opportunities to experience different business situations, and develop their autonomy as language learners. The disadvantage was that time for face-to-face teaching was largely reduced, which might not benefit much the students who were less motivated and/or weaker in learning strategies.

Based on what is summarized above, there is no uniformed teaching approach that dominates BC classrooms. More studies are needed to clarify the picture. But what S. Wang (2012) reported above alerts us that there are still some BC classrooms that employ the traditional language-focused approach, which does not conform to the modern LSP teaching principles (Lyster 2011). Notably, in the BC field, a certain percentage of instructors are ‘language-trained’ professionals who ‘tend to focus more on language but often at the expense of greater in-depth exploration of content’, while some others come from literature and culture-study disciplines and may emphasize ‘content at the expense of language’ (Lyster 2011: 614). Either approach is not in the best interests of our students. Hence, how to address the pedagogical challenge at the interface between content and language needs to be discussed further. In this regard, task-based language teaching provides us with implementable guidelines, which will be explored in the next section.

When to Teach

A long debate has been going on regarding whether a BC course should be offered for beginning learners. There is a strong voice against doing so, arguing that an elementary BC course is located toward the CHINESE end along the BUSINESS-CHINESE continuum and tends to be like a generic language course (cf. Chen 1998; UIBE 2011). Nevertheless, due to various reasons, e.g. to attract more students and respond to the needs of working professionals, elementary BC courses can be found in various instructional contexts (e.g. University of Pennsylvania). The national survey conducted by Long and Uscinski (2012) also revealed that five out of 21 LSP Chinese courses are offered at the beginning level and three at the intermediate level. There are also reports on how elementary BC courses can be successfully implemented. For example, Hong (1996), in her second-year BC class, presents cultural and pragmatic knowledge in English first and then coaches her students to imitate the model dialogue and role-play it in Chinese. Guan (2018) developed a series of communicative tasks for his second-year BC textbook. As

such, it may be too premature to conclude that BC should not be offered to beginners; the most important issue is whether there is such a need in a particular context. If yes, and staffing is not an issue, why should not we? It should be noted, meanwhile, that instructors need to make efforts in avoiding teaching such a course like the one for generic purpose, but using business-related topics to develop language-driven exercises and function-oriented activities to meet the particular needs of these students. Topics can be ‘the first day in company’, ‘a daily schedule in a business setting’, and ‘addressing terms in a company’ etc.

Trends in BC: Case Method and Task-Based Teaching

Over the past decade, some trends in BC instruction have emerged and developed, largely due to the introduction of new teaching and learning theories into the field. The case method and task-based language teaching are the most prominent examples, with the former more relevant to ‘what to teach’ and the latter to ‘how to teach’. Regarding the case-study method, ever since the publication of the first case-based business textbook in 2005 (Yuan 2005), a number of textbooks have appeared by using business cases to develop text and exercises (e.g. Shi and Huang 2005). The UIBE survey (2011) reported that the most frequent word occurred in an open-ended survey among BC instructors is ‘case study’; BC training workshops in Shanghai have used business cases as the thematic content to train instructors (Zhou 2017); a Chinese business case competition is held every year at Brigham young University; and three recent discussions within two special-interest WeChat groups on Chinese teaching were evolved around the topic of how to teach cases in BC courses. In the same vein, task-based teaching is also a popular term among BC educators. For example, all teachers participating in S. Li et al.’s (2013) interview claimed to have used tasks a lot. Task-based teaching has become an alluring topic at BC conferences and journal articles (Guan 2017; Yuan 2006). Almost all newly published BC textbooks have integrated task-based teaching principles to develop lesson formats and exercises. Nevertheless, as evidenced by recent WeChat group discussions (personal observations), how to utilize business cases to generate language learning opportunities at input, interaction, and output stages is still a challenge for many BC instructors. To address this, the following will discuss the rationales behind these two popular trends and recommend some specific techniques with the illustrations of a teaching plan developed around the case ‘KFC’s localization in China’.

BC Instruction Through Real-World Business Cases

The case-study method was pioneered at Harvard Business School in the 1920s as a way to highlight business principles through real-world illustrations. The specific steps involved in the method include isolating key issues against theories and larger comparative environments, identifying appropriate strategies for resolutions, weighing pros and cons of remedial options, and recommending and presenting resolutions in the professional language (Boyd 2002). To facilitate the process, pedagogical techniques including role-plays and class debates are also utilized. Decades have passed and the case method has been widely adopted across disciplines including business language teaching.

The case method was first introduced into BC education about a decade ago when Yuan published the first textbook based on real-world cases (2005). Ever since then, it has become a popular teaching method and has been received as the ‘most appropriate pedagogical model’ (Boyd 1991: 729). Its advantages are elaborately discussed by drawing on modern pedagogical principles (see Boyd 2002 and Yuan 2006 for details) and summarized as follows: (1) Business cases can create an ideal language learning framework within which a variety of business topics

and scenarios can be encompassed, which aligns to the ‘wide-angle approach’ (Chen 2012) that the field has concurred in terms of what to teach; (2) A business case usually contains elements found in a story, including what, when, where, who, how, and why, and hence can be easily developed into language-rich (e.g. focused vocabulary and speech acts) and discourse-rich (e.g. argumentation, narration, and illustration) teaching materials, based on which form-focused exercises and content-driven tasks can be created to develop students’ language ability in contexts; (3) Since business cases take place in the real world, they are close to students’ life, and therefore can easily mobilize them to share experience and voice opinions. By doing so, students are given the opportunity to learn to use and use to learn Chinese in context and make their language development occur more naturally; (4) Through studying real-world cases, students can learn about intermingled business culture and macro/micro economic situation in which a case takes place; and (5) For instructors, clear-cut connections can be easily established between/among cases and hence course syllabus can be conveniently structured.

The case method also has pitfalls though, which instructors should make efforts to go around. For example, students may have better knowledge than the instructor about business concepts involved in a case (e.g. international mergers and acquisitions), which may make the instructor feel challenged. It is recommended that BC instructors break away from the conventional role as an expert, but function more as a facilitator and language consultant in the classroom. Another problem associated with the method is that business cases can be easily outdated. This problem can be resolved by converting a ‘closed case’ into an ‘open case’ by asking students to update the information through research on their own; hence, this disadvantage is diverted to an authentic learning opportunity.

Incorporating Real-World Cases Into Task-Based Frameworks

With years of empirical research and theoretical endorsement, task-based teaching has been widely received as an effective approach by language professionals including BC educators. Nonetheless, as the term ‘tasks’ can embody different layers of meaning, it is often a case that tasks are not designed and implemented in a pedagogically sound manner as proposed by Skehan (2003). For example, students are not given opportunities to be sufficiently prepared conceptually and linguistically before performing a task, with a consequence that level-appropriate language is not employed in their output. Another often-seen problem is that post-task instruction is not adequately provided in order to consolidate the language skills targeted in the lesson.

To design a level-appropriate case-based task, two indexes should be taken into consideration: (1) language factors and (2) cognitive factors (Yuan 2006). Language factors refer to the lexical/syntactic complexity and range required to perform a task. For example, a task that requires learners to compare the prices of two fast-food chains (e.g. MacDonald’s and KFC) generally needs less complex language lexically and syntactically than a decision-making case about branding strategies that a company employs on the global market (e.g. P&G’s multiple-branding strategy). In the latter case, a wider range of lexical terms and styles of discourse have to be incited. Cognitive factors refer to learners’ familiarity of the background knowledge involved in a case, the nature of the case materials (i.e. whether it is more abstract or concrete), and reasoning operations required to complete the task. Generally speaking, a case-based task that involves analyzing a business problem and justifying a resolution is a cognitively more challenging one than a narrative task.

As widely known, task-based teaching proceeds in three stages: pre-task, mid-task, and post-task. To address the difficulties generated from language factors and cognitive factors aforementioned, sufficient preparations should be made in the pre-task stage through a variety of

scaffolding techniques, such as providing students with the linguistic devices needed to complete the task and framing the task with an outline. In the task implementation stage, pedagogical conditions can be manipulated to adjust the task difficulty level in accordance with learners' proficiency levels, including using visual aids to reduce task difficulties, inserting a surprising strand to sparkle students' interest, and/or taking away a strand to decrease task difficulty. In the post-task stage, a series of pedagogical moves can be employed to consolidate and recycle the cultural knowledge and language skills. Table 33.1 list some typical techniques at each of these task stages:

It should be noted that in actual teaching, boundaries between task stages are not as clear-cut as indicated above. As shown, for the purpose of varying students' attentional focus between content and language, in the mid-task and post-task stages, cyclical teaching can be implemented to alleviate linguistic and cognitive challenges by providing opportunities for students to perform a sequence of (sub-)tasks about one case, and/or do the same task about a different company. By doing so, students can repeatedly use the same linguistic devices and transfer language skills from one task to another in the same or different modalities, and/or in the same or different business contexts. Through these techniques, the implementation of one task can function as the linguistic and cognitive preparation for the follow-up task, and the follow-up task offer opportunities to reinforce the language skills and enhance the business knowledge obtained from the previous task.

To illustrate these pedagogical principles and methodological techniques, a sample lesson plan developed for and implemented in a third-year BC course at the University of Pennsylvania is illustrated in the following. The business case used is 'KFC's localization in China' (Yuan 2005, 2014, 2020).

Table 33.1 Integrating business cases into task-based frameworks

<i>Stage with purpose</i>	<i>Typical Techniques</i>
Pre-task To scaffold the task by preparing learners linguistically and cognitively	1. To ask questions to mobilize learners' background knowledge; 2. To ask students to read about or perform online research about the case background; 3. To introduce new language forms through explicit and/or implicit teaching; 4. To have students observe or read about a similar case; 5. To frame the task by providing a time line for a narration of a business case or a macro-structure of justifications for a decision-making task.
Mid-task To adjust task difficulty linguistically and cognitively and to develop different language skills by manipulating performance conditions	1. To vary performance conditions (e.g. pair work or by oneself) to train different aspects of language skills; 2. To provide time pressure to increase difficulty level or vice versa; 3. To introduce a surprise strand to increase difficulty or take away a strand to reduce difficulty; 4. To provide visual support to reduce difficulty; 5. To have students repeat the task in similar or different modalities (e.g. from listening to speaking; from interactive to non-interactive); 6. To have students repeat the task in a similar or different context.
Post-task To reinforce linguistic knowledge and language skills	1. To provide explicit and implicit teaching of linguistic forms as necessary; 2. To have students correct each other's work; 3. To have students repeat tasks in different modalities and in different business contexts.

A Sample Lesson Plan: KFC's Localization in China

Goals

Through studying KFC's strategic changes on the Chinese market and analyzing their pros and cons within the context of China's economic development over the past three decades, students are expected to (1) develop overall language skills including reading, writing, and speaking, (2) promote lexical and grammatical knowledge, (3) learn general business terms such as product localization, (4) familiarize themselves with the uniqueness of business environment in China and its development over the years, and (5) develop an understanding of possible challenges for a company in a foreign market.

Task Analysis

Language difficulty: Analyzing a company's business decision requires students to use an extensive range of language lexically and syntactically.

Cognitive difficulty: Students are familiar with KFC including its products, target market, and operation model in America, but they have little knowledge about the social and economic changes in China between the year when KFC first entered the market and the present time.

Task/Lesson Implementation

To achieve the projected goals, a series of activities are developed to shift students' attention between form and meaning and enable them to learn the language in context and use the context to practice the language.

Pre-task:

1. Scaffolding students with questions about their experience with KFC in order to mobilize their background knowledge and relevant vocabulary, and push them to express complex ideas in Chinese. In this process, vocabulary, and business terms are introduced in context.
2. Providing a brief introduction to the history of KFC's expansion in China by using charts and pictures to reduce possible cognitive difficulty. New words and business terms are provided alongside.
3. Studying the text (the case itself) through both bottom-up and top-down reading strategies with questions and answers about the text and through explicit instructions on language forms using flashcards and other visual aids.
4. Language-focused activities: reading comprehension and lexical and grammatical exercises provided in the textbook.

Mid-task: Encouraging students to utilize learned language skills and business knowledge to perform some or all the following tasks in a sequential and cyclical manner.

1. Role-play (modality change from text reading to speaking): The title of the task is 'KFC in China yesterday and today'. Class is divided into groups of four or five and act out the scenes presented in the text by following the directions: Imagine that you are a Chinese living in Beijing and act out the following scenes with what you see, hear, and eat: (1) It is in 1987 when KFC has just opened its first store in Beijing. It is your tenth birthday today and

- you are celebrating it with family and friends at KFC; and (2) 30 years has passed since KFC started its business in China. You are a white-collar worker of a multinational company. You are having lunch with your colleagues at the Beijing KFC flagship store.
2. Narration (modality change from speaking to writing): based on the role-play, ask students to write a narration describing and comparing the eating experiences at KFC in 1987 and now.
 3. Opinion-gap task (modality change from writing to speaking by using pragmatically appropriate structures): A table is designed as follows regarding the pros and cons of KFC's changes in China. Students fill out the table independently first, then exchange opinions with partners and write down the partner's thoughts in the table. In the process, instructors can explicitly teach students on how to use pragmatically appropriate structures to exchange opinions with other people, e.g. can you tell me. . . ? I am sorry that I have to interrupt you. . .
 4. Presentation task (modality change from writing to speaking in a formal context): Students present the analysis and conclusion of their own as well as their partner's in class.
 5. Task repetition (to recycle the language skills and business knowledge in another context): Students read a similar case in the lesson by using similar language expressions, style, and business concepts: Why KFC failed in Hong Kong for the first time but succeeded for the second time.
 6. Task repetition with a different company: students perform online research and write a report about the operations of a similar fast-food chain in China such as MacDonald's or Subway

Post-task: To reinforce linguistic knowledge and skills and foster a further understanding of business and cultural knowledge about China.

1. Peer critique each other's work after performing some or all the tasks listed above with a focus on linguistic expressions.
2. Discussion on common errors revealed in students' speaking and writing tasks.
3. Explicit or implicit instruction on linguistic forms as needed.
4. Students conduct further research on KFC's latest development in China, e.g. number of new stores, new products, news coverage and etc.

Table 33.2 Framing the task on KFC's strategic changes in China

<i>Pros</i>	<i>Cons</i>
1.	1.
2.	2.
3. . . .	3. . . .
Conclusion: I believe KFC should/should not . . .	

Table 33.3 Framing the analysis of the KFC's strategic changes in Hong Kong

	<i>1973</i>	<i>1985</i>	<i>Why change?</i>
Advertisement			
Pricing strategy			
Service strategy			
One sentence conclusion			

Concluding Remarks

With a history of more than 30 years, business Chinese education has evolved steadily both in scope and sophistication and both in the United States and China. Its solid integration into current Chinese language instruction opens up dynamic possibilities for pedagogical innovations with regard to what to teach and how to teach. Admittedly though, there exists much room for further development. For example, the number of American colleges and universities that offer BC courses is still trivial (38 according to Li 2016) compared to the number of schools that have Chinese programs (173 according to Long and Uscinski 2012); and some schools have discontinued BC offerings because of insufficient enrollments (Li et al. 2013). Needless to say, there are a variety of factors that influence school decisions to start or cancel BC courses, such as changes in school policies regarding foreign-language requirements, ups and downs in national and international political-economic situations, fluctuations in bilateral and multilateral business relationships, lack of trained faculty, and unsatisfactory teaching quality. All these pose a continued challenge for us to maintain current offerings and expand BC education. One way to address the challenge is to examine our current practices systematically and scientifically as little empirical evidence has been reported pertaining to the impacts of BC instruction on student learning in terms of linguistic skills and business/cultural knowledge. Research of such nature will allow the field to understand the existing practices on an empirical basis, identify issues and concerns that need to be addressed, promote dialogues among professionals within the field, influence policy-makers and school administrators, and project the directions for the future development.

Note

- 1 I am grateful for the people who offered help and support. My appreciation especially goes to the two anonymous reviewers, three editors and colleagues who received my interviews or provided information about their business Chinese offerings including Li Zhang, Daoxiong Guan, Grace Wu, Hong Tao, Zhongqi Shi, Wenze Hu, and Haidan Wang. All errors remain mine.

References

English References

- Boyd, F. (1991) 'Business English and the case method: An assessment'. *TESOL Quarterly* 25(4): 729–934.
- Boyd, F. (2002) 'An ESP program for students of business'. In Thomas Orr (ed.), *English for Specific Purposes*. Alexandria: VA TESOL.
- Chen, Q. (1998) 'Business Chinese education: A challenging and promising endeavor into the twenty-first century'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 33(2): 1–22.
- Chen, Q. (2012) 'Focusing on the essentials: The path to business Chinese instruction'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 47(1): 17–31.
- Chen, Q., Tang, L. and Levin, Q. (2012) *The Routledge Course in Business Chinese*. New York: Routledge.
- Dudley-Evans, T. and St. John, M. J. (1998) *Developments in English for Specific Purposes: A Multidisciplinary Approach*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Feng, Y., Dai, X. and Chen, N. (2006) *Close the Deal*. Boston: Cheng and Tsui Company.
- Fortanet-Gomez, J. (2008) *ESP in European Higher Education: Integrating Language and Content*. Philadelphia: John Benjamins Publishing.
- Grosse, C. (1985) 'A survey of foreign language for business and the professionals at IS colleges and universities'. *Modern Language Journal* 69: 221–226.
- Grosse, C. and Voght, G. (1991) 'The evolution of languages for the special purposes in the United States'. *Modern Language Journal* 75: 181–195.

- Guo, J. (2003) *Open for Business: Lessons in Chinese Commerce for the New Millennium*. Boston: Cheng and Tsui Company.
- Hong, W. (1996) 'Cross-cultural training in business Chinese'. *Global Business Languages* 1: 1–8.
- Li, S. (2016) 'Pragmatic information in selected business Chinese (BC) textbooks in the U.S'. *Chinese as a Second Language* 51(2): 191–217.
- Li, S., Wang, S. and Wang, J. (2013) 'A preliminary investigation of business Chinese instruction among U.S. institutions of higher education'. *Journal of the Chinese Languages Teachers Association* 48(2): 69–89.
- Long, M. and Uscinski, I. (2012) 'Evolution of languages for specific purposes programs in the United States: 1990–2011'. *Modern Language Journal*, special issue: 173–189.
- Lyster, R. (2011) 'Content-based second language teaching'. In E. Hinkel (ed.), *Handbook of Research in Second Language Teaching and Learning Volume II*, 611–630. New York and London: Routledge.
- Skehan, P. (2003) 'Task-based instruction'. *Language Teaching* 36(1): 1–14.
- Wang, H. (2011) 'Chinese for business professionals: The workplace needs and business Chinese textbooks'. *Global Business Languages* 16: 27–42.
- Wang, H. (2013) 'Attaining sustainable growth of a business Chinese program through utilization-focused evaluation'. *Global Business Languages* 18: 131–144.
- Wang, H. (2014) 'Toward deepening cultural and language understanding: The design and practice of a hybrid business Chinese course'. *Journal of Teaching in International Business* 25: 250–262.
- Wang, J., Liu, C. and Kao, K. (1982) *Business Chinese*. Stanford: Stanford University.
- Wu, G. (2014) 'Online business Chinese: Perspective, design and challenge'. Paper presented at The Fourth Business Chinese Workshop at the University of Michigan.
- Yuan, F. (2003) *Advanced Business Chinese—Economy and Commerce in a Changing China and the Changing World*. New Haven: Yale University Press.
- Yuan, F. (2006) 'Case-study approach, task-based language teaching, and a framework for business Chinese instruction'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 41(1): 13–30.
- Yuan, F. (2007) 'Advanced business Chinese teaching'. Paper presented at the Business Chinese Workshop, University of Michigan.

Chinese References

- An, Na and Shi, Zhongqi 安娜、史中琦 (2017) 商务汉语中的词语复现研究 (Word recurrence in business Chinese textbooks). In Guan and Liu (eds.), *全球视野下的商务汉语教学与研究* (Business Chinese Teaching and Research in Global Perspectives). Beijing: Peking University Press.
- Beijing Language Institute and Beijing Institute for Foreign Trade 北京语言学院、北京对外贸易学院 (1982) *外贸洽谈五百句* (Foreign Trade Negotiation 500). Beijing: Sinolingua.
- Fudan University webpage 复旦大学网站
- Guan, Daoxiong 关道雄 (2003, 2018) *基础实用商务汉语* 第一版, 第二版 (A Practical Business Chinese Reader, 1st and 2nd edn.). Beijing: Peking University Press.
- Guan, Daoxiong 关道雄 (2017). 北美高校商务汉语的课程设计与教学方法 Curriculum design and teaching methods for business Chinese courses in North America. In Guan and Liu (eds.), *全球视野下的商务汉语教学与研究* (Business Chinese Teaching and Research in Global Perspectives). Beijing: Peking University Press.
- Li, Lin-nei and Li, Gengxin 黎杨莲妮, 李更新 (1990) *商业汉语* (Business Chinese). Beijing: Sinolingua.
- Shi, Zhongqi and Huang, Yingfeng 史中琦、黄莺凤 (2015) *商务汉语案例教程文化卷* (Business Chinese Case Studies). Beijing: China Translation Publishing Company.
- University of International Business and Economics (UIBE) 对外经济贸易大学 (2011) *国际商务汉语年度报告* (Annual Report of International Business Chinese). Beijing: Higher Education Press.
- Wang, Shan 王珊 (2012) *中级商务汉语综合课教材练习设计的考察与分析* (Intermediate Business Chinese Textbook Analysis). Unpublished Master's Thesis, Xinjiang Normal University.
- Yuan, Fangyuan 袁芳远 (2005, 2014, 2020) *成功之道—中级商务汉语案例教程*, 第一版, 第二版, 第三版 (Business Chinese for Success—Real Cases from Real Companies, 1st, 2nd and 3rd edn.). Beijing: Peking University Press.

- Zhang, Li 张黎 (2005) 商务汉语入门—日常交际篇 (Elementary Business Chinese— Everyday Chinese). Beijing: Peking University Press.
- Zhang, Li 张黎 (2006) 商务汉语教学需求分析 (Needs analysis in business Chinese instruction. 语言教学与研究 (Language Teaching and Research) 3: 55–60.
- Zhang, Li 张黎 (2007) 经贸汉语课程研究 (Research on Business Chinese Teaching). Beijing: Commerce Press.
- Zhou, Hong 周红 (2017) 基于案例法的国际商务汉语师资培训模式探究 (Case-based method and BC teacher training, 国际汉语教育 (International Chinese Language Education) 3: 76–88.

Appendix 1

BC Course Types and Teaching Contexts

<i>Context</i>	<i>Proficiency level</i>	<i>Course Information</i>
University of Pennsylvania	Entry level	This is a noncredit synchronous online course spanning for two semesters targeted at working professionals with little background in the Chinese language but desire to learn the language mostly out of job demand. This course has been offered for 10 years and the enrollment is from a few to a dozen.
University of California at Santa Barbara	Second-year	For students who have completed one-year college-level Chinese language courses. Topics of the course surround a series of trading transactions between Chinese and American companies. Teaching methods include form-focused, function-based, and task-oriented.
University of Pennsylvania	Third-year	For students who have completed two years of college-level Chinese courses or with the equivalent proficiency level. Most students will work in investment banks and consulting firms and therefore learning about Chinese business environment and being able to read Chinese newspapers are essential abilities to train. The course is developed around a series of business cases and generally employs task-based language teaching.
Wake Forest University	Fourth-year	It is offered as a selective course at the fourth-year level. The university is a private liberal arts college. Due to its size, the course is not offered on a regular basis but once a while depending on the enrollment.

Middlebury in Hangzhou	Fourth-year and beyond	Middlebury in Hangzhou is a study-in-China program targeted at American students who have completed two years of Chinese courses. Business Chinese is offered as one of the selective course and as students' needs. The course is developed around business cases, some of which from a textbook and some of which written by the course instructor.
Hangzhou Normal University	Intermediate and advanced	This is a two-year degree-bearing program for students who have studied Chinese for two years or who have passed HSK Level 4. A series of business-oriented courses offered in four semesters at the intermediate and advanced levels and students who have completed all the required courses will be awarded a bachelor degree in business Chinese.



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Part VII

Teaching Context and Policy



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Chinese Language Learning and Teaching in the UK

George X. Zhang and Linda M. Li

1. Introduction

UK has a long history in the learning and teaching of Chinese language. It is known that George Thomas Staunton (1781–1859) had already learned Chinese when he went with his father to accompany Lord Macartney on the first British diplomatic mission to China in 1792 (EACS 1998). First systematic efforts in Chinese language teaching (CLT) were made by early missionary pioneers such as Robert Morrison (1782–1834), who had also learned Chinese before he went to China and later authored *A Grammar of the Chinese Language* (1815) and *A Dictionary of the Chinese Language* (1815). Other famous British sinologists in the nineteenth and early twentieth-century include James Legge (1815–1897), the first professor of Chinese at Oxford (1867–1897) who translated many Chinese classics into English; Thomas Francis Wade (1818–1895), the first professor of Chinese at Cambridge (1888) and the author of the Chinese language textbook *Ü-yen tzu-erh chi: a progressive course designed to assist the student of colloquial Chinese* (《语言自迩集》1867). Wade initiated the famous Wade-Giles system of transliteration of Chinese pronunciation, which Herbert Allen Giles (1845–1935), who succeeded Wade as the professor of Chinese language, modified, and was in use for many years. The first professor of Chinese in Britain was in fact appointed as early as in 1837 in University College London. Looking back, CLT in the UK has experienced three ‘booming’ periods, with each period lasting longer than the previous and the current one still ongoing.

The first boom came in the early years of the twentieth century with the appointment of five professors of Chinese studies, two in London, one each in Cambridge, Oxford, and Manchester, and the establishment of School of Oriental Studies in 1916 (now School of Oriental and African Studies, University of London). The second came after WWII through to the 1960s with the birth of many new Chinese programs in the form of area studies like Chinese or East Asian studies in universities across the country (e.g. Durham, Leeds, Edinburgh etc.). The most recent initiative started at the turn of the century with funding to strengthen Chinese studies and Chinese language teaching at Cambridge, Oxford, SOAS, Durham, Leeds, Edinburgh, and Sheffield, followed by the British Inter-University China Centre (BICC) project in 2006. Britain achieved a lot in the last century in Chinese studies and CLT, as characterized by famous sinologists and language teaching professionals and materials. These include scholars and translators such as

Arthur Waley (1889–1966) and David Hawkes (1923–2009), science historian Joseph Needham (1900–1995), philosopher Paul Thompson (1931–2007), and linguist Michael Halliday (1925–). Also important are Chinese language textbooks like *Chinese* (1930) by J. Percy Bruce, E. Dora Edwards, and CC Shu (known as Lao She in China) and the classic *Colloquial Chinese* (1982) by PC T'ung and D.E. Pollard, as well as Chinese grammar series by Yip Po-Ching and Don Rimmington in the late 1990s.

A marked difference for CLT in the UK this century is that CLT is no longer just confined to university single honors language degree in Chinese, but has extended to many other types of programs. Moreover, CLT has extended to schools, which are closely associated with the development of Confucius Institutes (CI) in the last 10 years, along with the local efforts like HSBC Global Education Trust and British Council (BC) (Zhang and Li, 2010), and since 2016 the Mandarin Excellent Programme (MEP) funded by the British government. Britain now has 29 CIs, mostly based in universities and 148 Confucius Classrooms (CC) based in schools all over the country, the highest number in all European countries with an estimated 160,000 learners over the years as reported in a Chinese newspaper *People's Daily* (2017–10–24). The economic and political drives behind this rapid development include China's rising economic power; the increasing business and trade between China and UK; the start of the 'Golden Era' following China President Xi Jinping's state visit to the UK in 2015; and former British Primary Minister David Cameron's plan to double the number of learners of Chinese in the UK.

This chapter starts with a short description of the development and current status of CLT from primary education to lifelong learning since 2000, especially since the publication of our last article (Zhang and Li 2010). It then briefly analyses and discusses opportunities and challenges risen as the result of the development, including the possible impact of recent Brexit, with regards to sustainable growth of CLT in the UK. The chapter finally concludes with some remarks on future trends, along with suggestions and thoughts on future development.

2. CLT in Primary Education

The recommendation by the government to get foreign languages into primary schools came in 2002, but the policy did not come into force until 2014 when all English primary schools were required to provide foreign language learning opportunities at Key Stage 2 (KS2), and Chinese was amongst the seven languages recommended. From an unpublished survey in 2006 conducted by London Confucius Institute (LCI Survey), which the author coordinated, CLT was found to have already existed in dozens of primary schools up and down the country. Most of these schools either had partner schools in China, or offered Chinese because of the decision or initiative by their headteachers. Citing a National Foundation for Education Research (NFER)'s survey of national implementation of entitlement to language learning at KS2, *Mandarin Language Learning Research Study* (2007) indicated that '1% of primary schools which offer a language offer Chinese' in its sample (2007: 15).

While there is a growing interest and development of CLT in primary schools since 2006, the progress has been slow though steady. *Language Trends Survey (LTS)* 2012 found that of its sample of over 700 primary schools surveyed, very few reported offering Chinese between Year 3 and Year 6. *LTS 2014* reported that 2 percent of primary schools had CLT, similar to the results of an early study of 832 teachers commissioned by the BC and HSBC which found that only 3 percent of primary schoolteachers reported that their schools were teaching Chinese. The preliminary findings of a national CLT survey of the UK conducted by the European Association of Chinese Teaching (EACT) in late 2016 (the EACT Survey, to be published) further confirmed this. The EACT Survey worked on a randomly selected, but geographically

based sample of local education authorities (LEAs) responsible for the provision of compulsory education in their regions and used online search engines to look for Chinese or Mandarin in the websites of all the primary, secondary schools, and further education colleges (FECs) in these LEAs. The survey found that just over 2 percent of the schools and colleges offered some kind of CLT, of which a quarter was primary and two-thirds secondary schools with the tiny remainder by some specialist schools or FECs. The EACT Survey also confirmed that many of the primary schools that offer Mandarin have been linked to CIs or CCs, as also mentioned in *LTS* 2014. The most recent *LTS* (2017) states that 4 percent of primary schools in England offer Mandarin.

While the actual number of schools offering Chinese was tiny, especially in state schools, more schools were ‘incorporating elements of Chinese language and culture into their curricula as part of topic work’ (Tinsley and Baord 2014:6).

The primary CLT is developed unevenly across the four nations of the UK, and between state and independent (private) schools. The rate of development in state schools was found to be faster in Scotland (*LTS*, 2014) and Wales. As reported recently, an Early Learning of Chinese Project was set up in 11 East Lothian schools in Scotland with volunteer teachers to provide Mandarin learning to P1 pupils with training assistance by the Confucius Institute for Scotland (Scotland China Education Network, Dec. 27, 2017). The development was such that there was even a call to investigate the over teaching of Mandarin in 2015 (*Herald Scotland*, May 4, 2015). In Wales, it was reported that pupils learning Chinese doubled in 2015/16 as compared with the previous year (Wightwick 2016). In Northern Ireland, following the end of the Primary Languages Programme (PMLP) in 2015, a few schools that continued to offer Mandarin teaching all seemed to be linked to CI (Jones et al. 2017).

Independent primary schools, especially those attached to secondary schools (e.g. Brighton College Nursery & Pre-Prep School), are the leaders of CLT. In 2017 a new bilingual independent school, the first of its kind in the UK, opened its door to nursery and reception pupils in West London on the same premise of a free school. While its first recruited number was low, it was a significant step forward, as a previous plan to set up a similar English–Chinese bilingual free school had to be aborted because of the difficulty in finding a suitable premises and appropriate staff. It is a clear indication that demands for CLT in early years and in primary education certainly exist in the market.

It is because of these demands that there have been ‘private’ business initiatives aiming to meet them either individually, in small groups or in schools with work ranging from providing teaching, teacher training to engaging in material development. Two most notable of these are Bamboo Learning, which was founded in 2005 (but has now stopped its operation), and Dragon in Europe, which has just celebrated its 10th anniversary.

Many complementary Chinese schools, which used to be called community schools as they are mostly run by the Chinese communities, are also engaged in primary Chinese teaching. It is common that their young pupils learn Chinese in day-time schools and also meet over the weekend here to learn more. In addition, these schools have produced quite a few local textbooks for young learners of Chinese, such as the *Primary School Chinese* (2008), and *Let’s Learn Chinese* (2009) series. These materials have enriched those developed by BC and the University College London–Institute of Education (UCL–IoE) Confucius Institute.

3. CLT in Secondary Education

Fuelled by the growing support from the Chinese and British governments, there has been a lot of development of CLT in secondary schools in the last 10 years. This is not only in terms of the

steady increase in the number of schools and learners, but also in terms of the continuous efforts to improve the quality of CLT by more ‘demand-led’ material and staff development work.

Building upon the early joint efforts by HSBC and BC in promoting CLT in schools with activities and programs such as Chinese Teaching Assistants, School links, and Mandarin-speaking Competition, the establishment of the first school-based Confucius Institute at Special School and Academy Trust (SSAT) in 2006 (now UCL-IoE CI) along with the increasing engagement of other CIs in schools since then have proved to be a key factor in making CLT available to more learners and more schools. Today, there is a network of 148 school-based CCs in the UK, with hundreds of teachers and volunteers seconded from China each year teaching Mandarin in schools, mostly state secondary schools. This is particularly true of schools in Scotland, and most schools that offer Chinese appear to be ‘Confucius Hub’ schools (Kemp 2013).

It is difficult to have an accurate figure of the number of students learning Chinese in schools, as most schools would start with experimental extracurricular activities and gradually move to a timetabled subject when their students are confident enough to take General Certificate of Secondary Education (GCSE) or Advanced General Certificate of Education (A level) exams. The increase of CLT is evident from the increased number of students taking these exams with Pearson (formerly Edexcel), a major exam board in Chinese as shown in Figure 34.1. It is clear that the growth is most impressive in GCSE (KS4), with the number of students having grown over five times compared to 2008. Similar growth can also be seen in the number of students taking Chinese exam with other exam boards, and in the number of exam boards themselves as they did not have Chinese, but now do, such as Assessment and Qualification Alliance (AQA) and Scottish Qualification Authority (SQA), as well as in new exams or qualifications developed in response to the growing demands, such as IGCSE Chinese (by Cambridge Assessment International Education, and Pearson), and Cambridge Pre-U Mandarin Chinese. It should also be noted that Chinese was also one of the 25 languages available in the short-lived assessment scheme Asset Languages, in which different language skills could be assessed and accredited separately. The scheme was developed by Cambridge Assessment in 2005 in conjunction with other

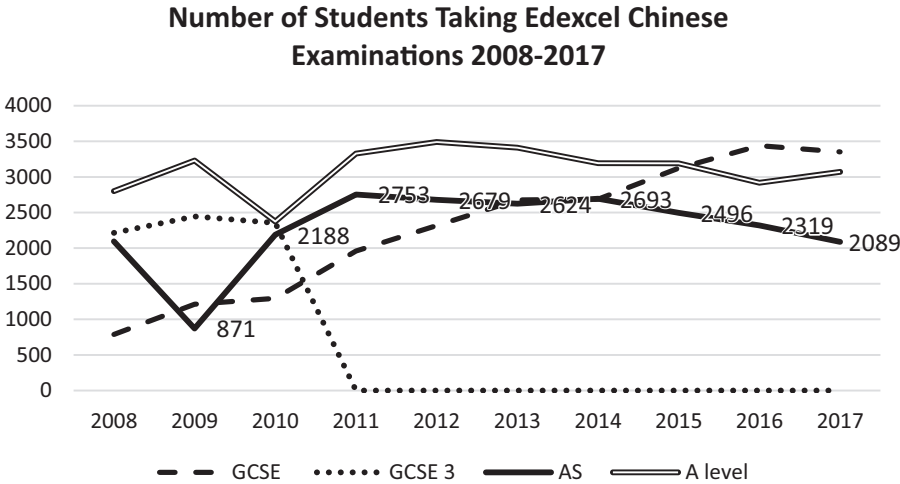


Figure 34.1 Candidate taking Edexcel Chinese exams 2008–2017

Sources: Pearson (formerly Edexcel) grade statistics. GCSE 3 had only three skills with no speaking and ceased in 2011.

institutions to implement the framework Language Ladder as part of the British government's national language strategy (2002–2010). The assessment, however, was terminated in 2013, due to costs and lack of much-needed financial support.

There is also a disparity between state and independent schools with regards to CLT development during the period, as is shown in **Figure 34.2**. CLT only grew slightly in state schools between 2007 and 2011, and stalled between 2011 and 2016. By contrast, independent schools were way ahead of the state schools in the provision of CLT. Today over 40 percent of independent schools provide CLT as compared to only about 13 percent of state secondary schools as indicated by the samples of the annual language trends. However, the results of the EACT Survey showed a much lower percentage of state schools offering CLT from its sample of over 3,300 schools as mentioned above.

A further look at the CLT in different stages of the secondary education (KS3, KS4, and KS5) and in different formats (timetabled classes and extracurricular activities) also indicates clearly that independent schools have outperformed state schools in all three stages and in both formal curriculum and informal extracurricular teaching, as shown in **Figure 34.3**. This is also confirmed by the result in the most recent language trends report (2017) with regards to Mandarin as enhancement course and timetabled full curriculum subject in state and independent schools in SK3, SK4 and post-16 SK5.

The 2015 language trends survey also reported that of all the A level candidates for Chinese in 2014, 74 percent were from independent schools and only 14 percent were from state schools, with the remaining 12 percent from other types of institutions. The report also mentioned that many of those from independent schools who take A level Chinese were native Chinese students, who often take it as an additional subject to increase their competitive edge for university entrance. What also needs to be mentioned here is that quite a few independent schools also prepare their students to take International Baccalaureate Chinese (IB), whose figure is not included in the statistics of the language trend surveys.

The gap between state schools and independent schools may narrow slightly in the next few years following the launch of the MEP in 2016. Aiming to train 5,000 fluent Mandarin-speaking

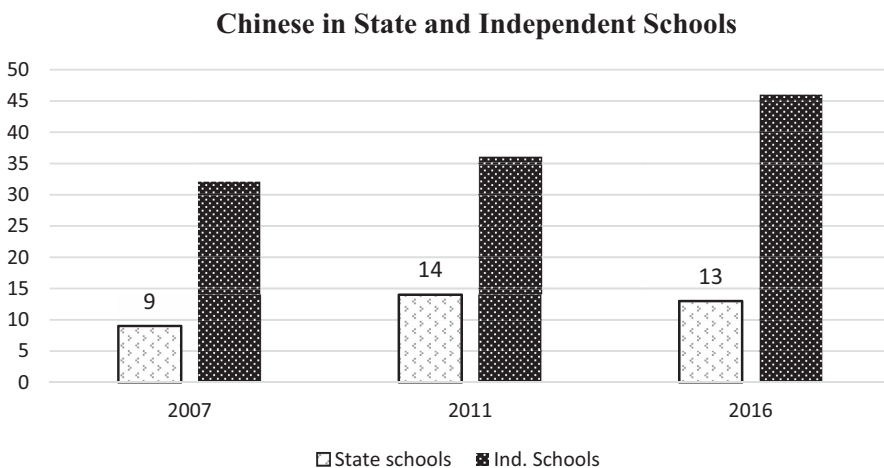


Figure 34.2 CLT in state and independent schools 2007–2016

Sources: *Mandarin Language Learning Research Study* (2007) and *Language Trends Survey Reports* 2011 and 2016

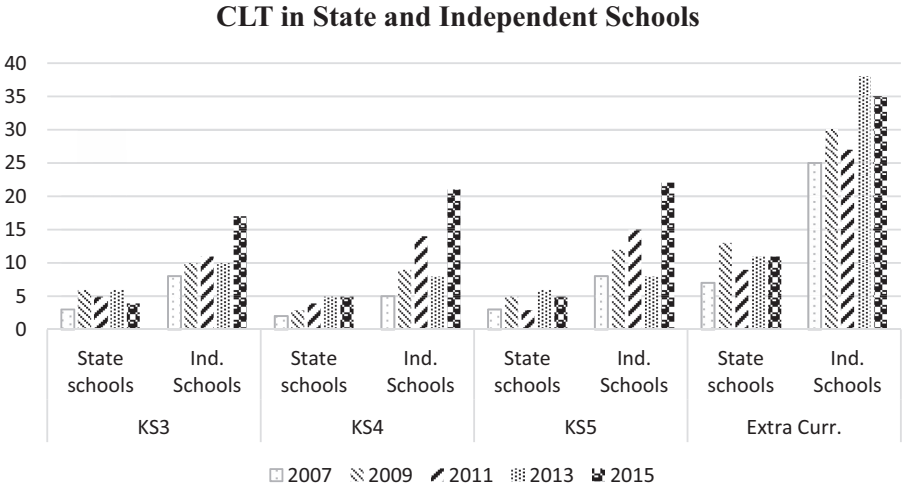


Figure 34.3 CLT in different stage and forms in state and independent schools 2007–2015

Sources: Mandarin Language Learning Research Study (2007); Language trends survey reports 2011/12 and 2013/14; and *Teaching of Chinese Language in the UK* (2015)

school students in a five-year period, the 10 million GBP project is unprecedented in the British history of foreign language learning and teaching. The program is managed by UCL-IoE CI. By the end of September 2017, about 40 schools had joined the program, each had a track record in offering CLT to at least a few dozen committed students with a minimum of eight hours per week in learning Chinese.

The increase in CLT has not been achieved easily as it is against the background that there has been a steady fall in foreign language learning in British secondary schools since the abolition of foreign languages as a required subject for GCSE (SK4) announced in 2002. For some languages the decrease is drastic. To remedy this, the government introduced English Baccalaureate (EBacc) at GCSE level in 2010, which includes a language in its five required subject areas, and EBacc is now used as a performance appraisal measure for schools. According to the statistics provided by the Department for Education, of all the language entries, the first three languages are consistently French, Spanish, and German, totaling about 88 percent of the exam takers, as is shown in **Figure 34.4**. The overall entry numbers are still decreasing, especially for French and German, and Chinese and Spanish have increased, though the increase for Chinese is quite limited, from 0.9 percent to 1.2 percent only. Chinese ranks at 7th place amongst languages in EBacc for the past three years, after French, Spanish, German, Italian, Polish, and Urdu.

The huge gap between Chinese and major European languages is still as wide as ever, despite all the developments and Mandarin being listed as the fourth most important language for the UK after Spanish, Arabic, and French (*Language Trends Survey*, 2013). This is not surprising as the steady yet small increase in CLT grows from a very low base and over a very short period of time compared with the European languages. As Chinese is often perceived to be difficult to learn, considerable efforts have gone into material and staff development to better meet the needs of both the learners and teachers of Chinese.

UK has produced a lot of learning and teaching materials for CLT in schools over the past 10 years. In addition to *Edexcel GCSE Chinese* (2009), which won an Outstanding International Chinese Language Teaching Materials award at the 5th Confucius Institute Conference in 2010,

4 Languages in EBacc 2013-16

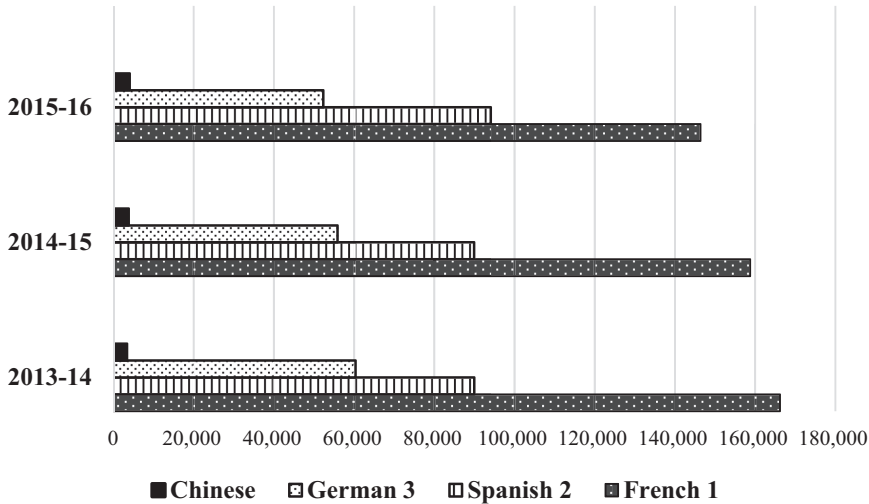


Figure 34.4 Chinese compared to three European languages in EBacc 2013–2016

Source: Department for Education: SFR03_2017_subject_tables: www.thegovernmentsays.com/comments/1469953

there are also *Jin Bù* series (2010) and many other locally produced materials like *Chinese for GCSE* (2005), *Chinese for AS* (2009), *Advanced Level Chinese* (2007), and *Mandarin B for the IB Diploma* (2014). Another area of CLT quality improvement has taken place in the education and professional development of the teachers of Chinese in schools. Compared with 10 years ago when there were only a small number of qualified teachers, with limited opportunities to gain qualifications and receive training, many schools, especially state schools now have qualified teachers, with many also being trained on the job. Pre-service qualification courses are also more available, like Postgraduate Certificate in Education (PGCE) in Goldsmith and UCL-IoE, and Scottish Professional Graduate Diploma in Education (PGDE) in Chinese in Aberdeen University and Edinburgh University. One aim of the MEP program is to train 100 teachers of Chinese over the same period of time. In addition, most CIs organize regular training events, plus the major annual Chinese Teaching Conference organized now by UCL-IoE CI (the 14th in 2017), which always has workshops on learning and teaching of Chinese.

The role of complementary schools in CLT in the UK is often overlooked. Before the recent CLT boom in British schools, it was these Chinese community schools that sent many of the candidates to sit for GCSE and A level exams. They were once the main venues where trainee Chinese language teachers went for their teaching practice. UK's complementary schools have a long history, and there are a few hundred in number all over the country, particularly in major cities and urban areas. Most of them were set up back in the 1970s and 1980s, and there are two major organizations for these schools, the UK Association for the Promotion of Chinese Education (UKAPCE) and the UK Federation of Chinese Schools (UKFCS). About a third of the schools have been established since the turn of the century, coinciding with the recent CLT boom in state and public schools and beyond. These new complementary schools tend to teach Mandarin in simplified Chinese and are usually managed by well-educated immigrants from mainland China in the last 30 years or so.

There are a few major changes for complementary Chinese schools in the last 10 years. First, the government funding to community languages was diminishing and in most cases no longer available, so the schools have to resort to other channels for financial support, which makes some difficult to operate. Second, its student body is rapidly changing, and it is no longer just heritage students from Chinese-speaking families, and not even just children. Third, now that Chinese is more widely available in schools, complementary schools face competition with regards to teaching, as their development will also depend on how well they can manage and teach often very different pupils and students in the classrooms as compared with the student body before.

4. CLT in Tertiary Education

The tertiary education in England consists of further education and higher education. Further Education Colleges (FECs) provide sub-degree undergraduate courses (e.g. Higher National Diploma, HNDs and Higher National Certificate, HNCs), mostly vocational as well as secondary education courses (e.g. GCSEs and A-levels). However, 'tertiary awards at sub-degree level have declined rapidly in England in recent years' (Wolf 2016:6). The 2011 survey report *Language Learning in FE Sector* confirmed MFL (modern foreign language) provision in FECs was also mainly European languages for GCSEs and A Levels, but CLT was increasing in about 10 percent of the FECs surveyed—though very little in vocational programs. The recent EACT survey shows similar results as in an earlier study (Zhang and Li 2010) that CLT in FECs tends to concentrate in south England and in regions with active contacts with China.

The development of CLT in the UK universities has been phenomenal since 2000, especially in terms of the increase in the number of universities that offer Chinese courses, in new degree programs with Chinese, and particularly in number of students learning Chinese as a non-specialist subject (Zhang 2012). The increase in the universities offering Chinese seemed to have taken place in the first few years of the 2000s, as an unpublished LCI Survey in 2006 found that about 80 percent of the universities surveyed already offered some kind of CLT, including accredited courses for their students and not-for-credit courses for the community in the evening and weekend. The number of university offering Chinese remains quite stable in the last 10 years, as clearly indicated by the survey results for the University Council of Modern Languages (UCML) and Association of University Language Centres in the UK and Ireland (AULC) carried out since 1999 of their members offering institution-wide language provision (IWLPs) in Chinese in **Figure 34.5**. An independent online survey that my colleague and I conducted in 2011 found that of the 139 HEIs surveyed in the UK, 100 (72%) offered Chinese language at that time, and a revisit in 2016 found a small increase to 106 out of 135. The EACT survey of the 134 HEIs in early 2017 found 114 offered Chinese, equivalent of just over 85 percent.

While there is also an increase in the student number, the distribution is uneven across different types of studies. First, the number of students studying Chinese as part of Chinese studies is fluctuating as in other languages. **Figure 34.6** shows the university students accepted each year for Chinese and French studies by the Universities and Colleges Admission Service (UCAS). The student number for Chinese studies did rise till 2011 and recently it is back to the 2007 level in 2016, and still way behind French studies. According to a report by the Scottish Funding Council (SFC) in 2015, the full-time equivalent (FPE) of undergraduates studying Chinese in Scottish universities also fell by over 30 percent in 2014, compared with the number of students in 2007.

The fluctuations during the period may have been partly affected by new initiatives and changes in the field of Chinese studies. There was the British Inter-University China Centre

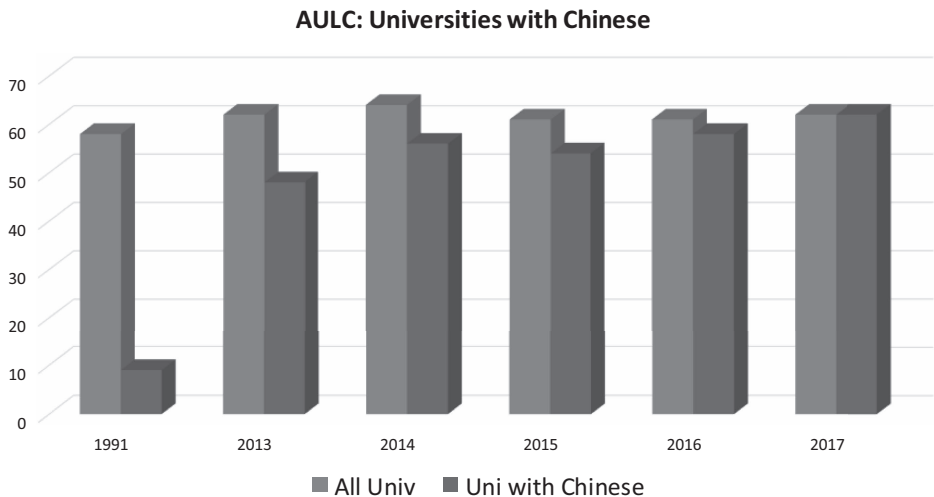


Figure 34.5 Universities that provide Chinese language courses

Sources: Keith Marshal, 2001. Survey of less specialist language learning in UK universities (1998–1999), UCML; UCML-AULC survey of Institution-Wide Language Provision in the universities in the UK 2012–2013; 2013–2014; 2014–2015; 2015–2016; 2016–2017

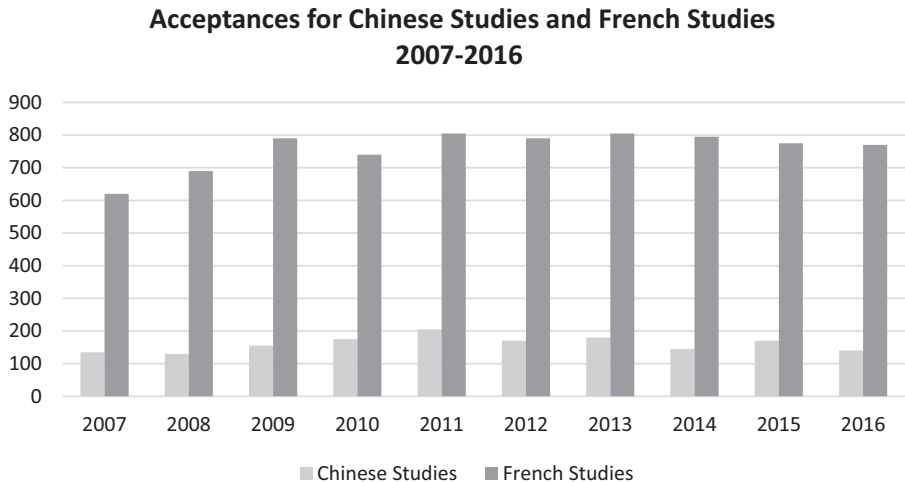


Figure 34.6 Student acceptances for Chinese and French Studies 2007–2016

Source: UCAS: DR3_015_01 Acceptances by Detailed subject group (All): www.ucas.com/file/84191/download?token=985YirUd

(BICC) between 2006 and 2012 (whose network ran till 2016), a collaborative program between Universities of Oxford, Bristol and Manchester, jointly funded by Economic & Social Research Council (ESRC), SFC and Higher Education Funding Council for England (HEFCE). Chinese language competence was regarded as a key part of the training program. In addition to language teaching provided to the postgraduates registered with its programmees, the Centre also put on short Chinese language enhancement courses for researchers. Other notable changes include the

reinstatement of new interdisciplinary BA in Chinese Studies at Durham University in 2012, following its closure of East Asian studies in 2007, and the dissolution of School of Contemporary Chinese Studies in the University of Nottingham in 20016. The latter was founded in 2007 and was once the largest of its kind in the UK, possibly in Europe. Now its Chinese teaching has been integrated into the University's Language Centre.

Major increase happens in new joint degree programs with Chinese, particularly students taking IWLP Chinese courses. Today many universities offer joint honors with Chinese, such as Chinese with business, history, law, or with another language, or Chinese Minors, but most universities appear to have Chinese as a IWLP language. The IWLP student number is very impressive, rising from a very small base in 1999 to about 10 percent of the total students in 2017, as shown in **Figure 34.7**. The UCML–AULC surveys in the last five years also show that of the most studied seven IWLP languages, Spanish, French, and German remain the top three. Chinese moved from 5th position (after Italian) in 2013 to 4th in the following two years, but slipped back to 5th position in 2016 (after Japanese) and fell further to 6th in 2017 (after Japanese and Italian).

In addition, Open University launched an innovative distance and online Chinese course in 2009, aiming to bring the learners to GCSE level in a year. This made Chinese widely available with the use of modern technology, and the course is now part of its language studies degree program. The development of CLT in the UK HEIs has taken place against the background that the number of universities offering modern foreign languages has declined by 40 percent over the past 15 years. CLT increase in HE owes a lot, apart from the increased economic and political profile of China, to the increasing exchanges between British and Chinese universities, the increased number of CIs and better organized and unremitting efforts by many Chinese teaching professionals in universities and their organization, the British Chinese Language Teaching Society (BCLTS).

Students for Chinese in Total IWLP

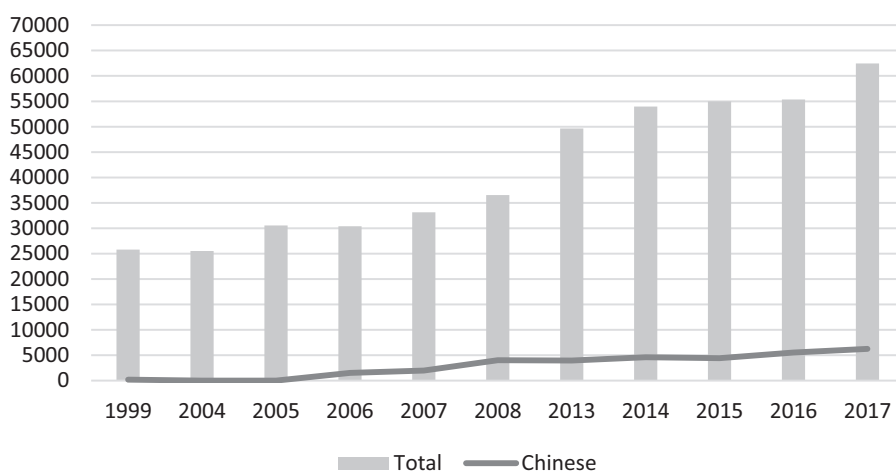


Figure 34.7 Students for IWLP Chinese and other languages 1999–2017

Sources: Keith Marshal, 2001. Survey of less specialist language learning in UK universities (1998–1999), UCML; UCML–AULC survey of Institution-Wide Language Provision in the universities in the UK 2012–2013; 2013–2014; 2014–2015; 2015–2016; 2016–2017

The BCLTS is a professional organization of university teachers of Chinese in the UK and Ireland which celebrated its 20th anniversary in 2017. Its annual conference is now an influential international event and excellent platform to share good practice in CLT, with participants from all over the world. It also publishes on CLT (now its 7th volume) and organizes regular professional development seminars and workshops. Its new development includes forming expert groups to provide guidance on CLT related research. As a key institutional member, it also played an instrumental role in the founding of the EACT based in Paris in early 2015.

Other significant efforts that have made good progress are in the areas of the training of Chinese language teachers and the development of Chinese teaching materials. MA in Teaching Chinese (with slightly different titles) is now available in a number of universities, such as Leeds, Nottingham, Richmond, Sheffield, and SOAS. There are also quite a number of locally produced Chinese textbooks by BCLTS members in response to the local needs, like *Colloquial Chinese* (1983), *Chinese for Everyone* (2004), *Chinese Crosswords* (2005), *Get Ahead in Chinese* (2006), *Chinese Express* (2006), *Confidence Chinese* (2007), *Advanced Business Chinese* (2007), *Colloquial Chinese* (2009), *Mastering Chinese: the complete course for beginners* (2010), *Chinese for Business Leaders* (2018), and the four volume *Chinese in Steps* series first published in 2005 and now in its third edition. The series were adapted by Open University for its Chinese course mentioned above and won the Outstanding International Chinese Teaching Materials Award in 2010 along with previously mentioned *Edexcel Chinese GCSE*. The two were among the 20 winning titles worldwide.

5. CLT in Lifelong Learning Sector

There has been a noticeable increase in the demand for CLT in this sector, especially in metropolitan cities and regions with cultural and education exchange or trade links with China. A clear indication is the quick growth in the number of public and private CLT providers. Many university language centers continue to provide non-accredited Chinese language courses to local communities. Since 2005, five more CIs were set up in London, and five of the six are based in the University of London. Course offered by CIs tend to be conversational in nature, with some oriented to prepare for HSK, the Chinese Proficiency Test.

It is not surprising that most CLT demands come from business communities that value China's market. Some companies put on CLT courses for their employees with outsourced instructors. Some CIs are specialized in facilitating business development with China and provide business Chinese language courses, for example, Confucius Institute for Business London (CIBL) based at London School of Economics and Political Science, whose advisory board includes multinationals with business interest in China. A couple of other CIs elsewhere, including Scotland, do the same, but there is growing competition from private providers of CLT, consisting of organizations and individuals providing business Chinese language training.

CLT is also available in some language schools, like member schools of International House (IH). Other major players included well-established training organizations that provide regular courses to the public. Far more in quantity are small businesses and individuals, who, aware of the increasing interest and demands for Chinese from businesses and the general public, tried to capitalize on these business opportunities. Such small businesses and individuals are usually teaching in multiple establishments at the same time. In addition to face to face teaching, online CLT is becoming more popular too. A major problem with this boom is that there is a huge variation in the quality of CLT as there is no professional organization for these small and private providers to monitor and ensure the quality of their CLT service in this sector.

As the number of new providers has increased at a fast pace, it leads to decrease in the number of learners for many institutions established earlier, sometimes with sharp fall. For one university language center in London, the number of learners has virtually halved over the last decade.

6. Opportunities and Challenges

The remarkable progress in UK's CLT since 2000 has led to both good opportunities and many challenges for CLT's future development. How well these opportunities and challenges are understood and managed would impact on if CLT can develop in a sustainable manner in the UK.

There has never been a better time for further development of CLT in the UK. First, China's economic power and political influence continue to rise, including the new Belt and Road Initiative. Trade and exchanges continue to grow between China and Britain, which is a major base for the interest in learning Chinese and about China and a key reason why Chinese language is listed as the fourth important language for the future of Britain (Tinsley and Board, 2013). The continuing economic growth in China also means that the Chinese government would continue to provide generous support to CLT in the UK through its network of CIs and CCs.

Second, the UK–China relation is at one of its best times in its 45 years history of diplomatic relations, not only in the evident term of the 'Golden Era', but also in UK's active involvement in China-led initiatives and the financial support given to CLT through the recent MEP project. As Brexit is rapidly approaching, China would become an even more important market for the UK, not just for trade and intangible services, but also for education, especially British higher education, which depends more and more on international students, many of whom come from China.

Third, there is growing Chinese business investment in the UK. The presence of Chinese businesses and Chinese students help to further raise the profile of China and Chinese language and to create a 'language environment' in which Chinese is more frequently used. In addition, learners of Chinese can utilize online opportunities with the aid of modern technology.

Finally, with its long history and fascinating recent development in CLT, UK has a wealth of accumulated expertise and increasing research, and a team of better trained and experienced teachers of Chinese than ever before. It is encouraging to see that while the number for GCSE Chinese is relatively small, some schools focusing on Chinese are finding that their students' performance in Chinese is as good as, and sometimes even better than in other languages. There is more coordination and collaboration in CLT, which contributes to the gradual localization of teachers and teaching materials.

However, challenges also remain acute for the future, especially sustainable development of CLT in the UK. First and foremost is the long-term sustained financial and resources support for CLT. It is widely acknowledged that the work of CIs and CCs has been a catalyst for the recent CLT boom taking place in British schools, but long-term sustainable development will depend on further resources from Hanban and how well CLT takes root in the British MFL system. The funded MEP project is a clear manifestation of the British government's commitment, but its seemingly large budget when divided amongst 5,000 intended students over five years is really not very much, not to mention the amount also includes costs for teachers, and learning and teaching materials development. While primary MFL is a good idea and now common practice, most problems seem to be related to lack of funding and resources input. The issue of lack of funding is even more acutely felt in higher education, which led some universities to close their foreign-language programs.

Second, the implementation of primary MFL policy calls for an urgent overhaul of the whole provision of MFL, from primary to secondary and tertiary education to ensure there is a continuity for the MFL provision. Primary schools with CLT should also have access to secondary schools in their catchment areas that also offer CLT, or it would be difficult for young

learners to achieve a reasonable level of proficiency in Chinese. The overhaul also includes the quality audit of teaching and teachers at schools, especially primary schools as early learning experience may decide the future interest of the young learners once for all.

Third, the supply of teachers of Chinese in schools needs to be put on the agenda if CLT is to develop further in schools. There is virtually no primary PGCE Chinese available so very few teachers of primary Chinese are UK trained in the subject. In addition, PGCE in Chinese also seems to focus more on non-subject specific contents. It is common in both primary and secondary schools that CLT is delivered by part-time teachers, and teachers temporarily seconded from China through BC's Teaching Assistant program or CIs or CCs with no UK teaching qualifications. The presence of the latter is making an enormous contribution to the CLT in British schools, but their short-term and frequent change can also be a barrier for a sustainable development of CLT (Zhang 2013). As often reported, there are schools that are happy to offer CLT, only because funding and teachers are provided (Kemp 2013; Language Trends Survey 2017), as the help is well appreciated and welcomed when there is a lack of funding for schools.

Fourth, there is not enough research on the learning and teaching of Chinese. While there are a lot of reports on the increased interest and the number of learners, little attention is paid to issues like the retention of learners. There is little empirical research on how Chinese is learned and taught in schools, universities, and other institutions, and what can be learned from the experiences of the learning and teaching of other languages so as to inform the further development of CLT in the UK.

Finally, there is lack of clarity and variety with the standards and assessment concerning CLT. With the cessation of Asset Languages, the Language Ladder seems to have been dropped too, and most of the MFL activities are now directly linked to the Common European Framework of Reference for Languages (CEFR) as in other European countries. However, how Chinese fits in with CEFR remains to be resolved. Although there is the EU funded CEFR-based European Benchmarks for Chinese Language (EBCL), the benchmarks are not widely used due to its incompleteness with its descriptors and framework only up to the A2 level. Previously, GCSE and A level Chinese used to be geared to serve the heritage students, the contents and even the grade bands were different from other MFLs. These exams were revised some years ago to cater for the increasing number of learners who have little or no connection to Chinese heritage. They have been changed recently again to get them in line with other MFLs. While the principle seems fine, the practice has often overlooked the fact that due to linguistic differences, learners of Chinese should not be expected to perform to the same level in the same given time as other European MFLs more familiar to English speakers. At the university level, the situation is no better. A survey by AULC in 2016 indicated that while three quarters of the surveyed institutions claimed that their Chinese courses were mapped onto CEFR, the reference used was mostly HSK. Academically there are concerns about the association that HSK claims to have between itself and CEFR (FaCh 2010; Zhang 2016).

7. Future Trends and Concluding Remarks

In light of the descriptions and discussions above, the following are a few observations with regards to the development of CLT in the UK in the next few years.

The number of learners of Chinese may continue to increase with the rise of China and Asia (Zhang 2014), but at a much slower and uneven rate across the board. While there is a likely increase in primary schools, it may have peaked in secondary schools. CLT in the tertiary education and lifelong learning sector will remain demand-driven, and affected more by the types of students recruited, exchange between China and UK, as well as the economic growth of China.

Changes taking place in schools will also impact on CLT in universities, where further adjustments and modifications are needed in both the teaching content and the way teaching is delivered.

Efforts on improving CLT quality will and need to continue in a very challenging environment for MFL development. While there will be more locally qualified and trained teachers, more empirical studies and more professional development activities, a clear vision and better coordination are critical for a sustainable development for CLT. For the time being, many activities and efforts seem to be quite fragmented. There are many regular events by different organizations, such as annual Chinese Teaching Conferences, BCLTS, and EACT international symposiums and workshop, and those organized by CIs which are often involved in the above activities in one way or another, but with little synergy between them.

In short, a slower pace of growth, coupled with continuing efforts in further improving CLT quality will characterize CLT in the UK in the next five to 10 years. Ultimately it is the effective and proficient delivery of CLT, the enjoyable and positive learning experience of CLT learners, and the continued policy and resources support that matter most in determining if CLT can develop in a sustainable manner in the UK.

CLT can go back as far as about two centuries in the UK, but it is in the last two decades that CLT has witnessed and experienced such an unprecedented rapid growth. While this is doubtlessly associated with the economic and politic power of China, it is at the same time driven by the British pragmatism and utilitarian traditions. Like many other countries in Western Europe, Britain will largely remain a multilingual and multicultural society, still in Europe, even after Brexit. Its *laissez-faire* principles will also mean that CLT will continue to develop alongside other MFLs, determined very much by the real practical needs and pragmatic cultural traditions.

The relatively short history of contemporary CLT in the UK also means that much remains to be done if CLT is to develop further and sustainably, from rudimental teacher education to continuing professional development, from empirical research on learning and teaching Chinese to teaching materials development. More importantly it is critical that CLT professionals in the UK also have an umbrella organization and a single voice so they can work together with colleagues of other languages rather than fighting the language battle in isolation. They also need to work out ways to overcome the perceived cultural and linguistic difficulties of the Chinese language by many learners and society at large.

UK will face even more challenge in its language teaching after Brexit, as the rest of EU countries would probably follow EU's 'mother tongue plus 2' policy, which will leave the UK even further behind in terms of MFL learning and teaching. It has been a while that the UK has suffered from a shortage of its own trained linguists (Tinsley 2013). The fact that none of the professors of Chinese in British universities now are UK-born British gives an indication of the extent of the problem. Brexit could be a time when the government and society have to review the language policies and practices to better prepare for an after-Brexit Britain, which could impact on the learning and teaching of all languages, including Chinese.

References

English References

- EACS (European Association of Chinese Studies). (1998) Chinese Studies in the UK. Survey No 7. British Association of Chinese Studies
- FaCh. (2010) 'Statement of the Association of Chinese Teachers in German Speaking Countries) on the new HSK Chinese Proficiency Test'. Retrieved from www.fachverband-chinesisch.de/sites/default/files/FaCh2010_ErklaerungHSK_en.pdf

- Jones, Sharon, Greenwood, R., Purdy, N. and McGuckian, E. (2017) *Review of Current Primary Languages in Northern Ireland*. Belfast: Stranmillis University College. Retrieved from <https://www.stran.ac.uk/filestore/Filetoupload,747768,en.pdf>
- Kemp, Jackie. (2013) 'Mandarin blossoms among Scots language pupils'. Scotsman, 29 April. Retrieved from www.scotsman.com/news/education/mandarin-blossoms-among-scots-language-pupils-1-2912622
- Language Learning in FE Sector. (2011) CfBT, CiLT/CYMRU, SCLT, NI CiLT. <http://alcantaracom.com/wp/wp-content/uploads/FE-Trends-survey-2011.pdf>
- LTS (Language Trends Survey) Reports (2014, 2017). Retrieved from www.alcantaracom.com/research/ (T Tinsley and K Board are involved in and authors of many of these commissioned research in the last decade).
- LCI Survey. (2006) an unpublished report on the commissioned survey of CLT in the UK, carried out and completed by London Confucius Institute.
- Marshall, Keith. (2001) *Survey of Less Specialist Language Learning in UK Universities (1998–1999)*, University Council for Modern Languages. Retrieved from <https://www.llas.ac.uk/sites/default/files/nodes/614/KeithMarshall.pdf>
- National Centre for Languages (CiLT) (2007) *Mandarin Language Learning Research Study*. London: CiLT.
- Scottish Funding Council (SFC) '18 modern languages'. Retrieved from www.sfc.ac.uk/web/FILES/CNP_Councilmeeting19June2015/SFC15_18_Modern_Languages.pdf
- Tinsley, Teresa. (2013) *Languages: The State of the Nation*. London: British Academy.
- Tinsley, Teresa and Board, Kathryn. (2013) *Languages for the Future*. London: British Council.
- Tinsley, Teresa and Board, Kathryn. (2014) *The Teaching of Chinese in the UK*. Alcantara Communications. Retrieved from https://www.britishcouncil.org/sites/default/files/alcantara_full_report_jun15.pdf
- UCML publishes many reports on language in Higher Education, including UCML-AULC IWLP survey reports. Retrieved from www.ucml.ac.uk/languages-education/he-languages
- Wightwick, Abbie. (2016) 'The number of pupils learning the Chinese language Mandarin in Welsh schools has doubled'. December 14. Retrieved from www.walesonline.co.uk/news/education/number-pupils-learning-chinese-language-12321384
- Wolf, Alison. (2016) *Remaking Tertiary Education: Can We Create a System That Is Fair and Fit for Purpose?* London: UCL Education Policy Institute.
- Zhang, G. X. and Li, M. L. (2010) 'Chinese language teaching in the UK: Present and future'. *Language Learning Journal* 38(1): 87–97.
- Zhang, G. X. (2014) 'Preparing for Asia in the new age of globalisation: University language centres in face of changes in higher education'. *Language Learning in Higher Education, De Druyter* 4(2): 271–283.

Chinese References

- Zhang, G. X. 张新生 (2012) 欧盟语言政策和大学外语教学 (Language policy of European Union and Universities' foreign language teaching). In Lijian Hong (eds.), 全球语境下海外高校汉语教学 (International Chinese Teaching in HE in the Context of Globalisation). Shanghai: Xuelin Publishing Press
- Zhang, G. X. 张新生 (2013) 英国的中小学汉语教师培训的本土化 (The Localisation of the Training of School Teachers of Chinese in the UK). In M. Jiang (eds.), 汉语国际教育：人才培养现状与对策 (Chinese International Education: The Current State and Strategies of Teacher Training). Beijing: Beijing Language and Multimedia Press.
- Zhang, G. X. 张新生 (2016) '欧洲汉语能力标准再探' (Some further thoughts on European Benchmarks for the Chinese language). 国际汉语教育 (Journal of International Chinese Teaching) 3: 50–59.

Acronym Glossary

A level	Advanced General Certificate of Education
UCL-IoE	University College London—Institute of Education
AULC	Association of University Language Centres in the UK and Ireland

BC	British Council
BCLTS	British Chinese Language Teaching Society
CC	Confucius Classroom
CI	Confucius Institute
CLT	Chinese language teaching
EACT	European Association of Chinese Teaching
FEC	Further Education Colleges
GCSE	General Certificate of Secondary Education
HEI	Higher education institution
IWLP	Institute-wide language program
KS2	Key Stage 2 (7–11-year-olds)
KS3	Key Stage 3 (11–14-year-olds)
KS4	Key Stage 4 (14–16-year-olds)
KS5	Key Stage 5 (16–18-year-olds)
LTS	Language Trend Survey
MFL	Modern Foreign Language
MEP	Mandarin Excellent Programme
SFC	Scottish Funding Council
UCML	University Council of Modern Languages

The Impact of Australian Language Policies on Chinese Language Teaching

Shen Chen and Helena Hing Wa Sit

Introduction

Australia, one of the largest English-speaking countries located in the Asia-Pacific region, historically shares a cultural heritage with the United Kingdom in Europe and has also been strongly influenced politically by the United States of America in spite of its geographical distance. As a result of increasing interactions such as international trading, industrial joint ventures, cross-national education, immigration, and other sociocultural activities with neighboring countries in Asia, Australia has established special relations with Asian countries and played an important role in the economic development of the region. From time to time, a loud voice of 'engagement with Asia' and 'Asia-literacy' has been echoed from the Australian governments who have put forward a series of language policies promoting Languages Other Than English (LOTE), in particular, Asian languages including Chinese as a second language. Australia is the first English-speaking country among Western developed countries of the world whose government has established systematic and continuing national language policies. The teaching and learning of Chinese has been supported and influenced by the language policies of the federal and state governments respectively. This chapter will present chronologically the Australian language policies of the past and present as well as describing the impact of these policies upon the teaching and learning of Chinese as a second language in community schools, mainstream schools and universities including curriculum development and Chinese-teacher education and training.

Australia's National Language Policies

The first national language policy was put forward in 1987. In the last three decades, there have been five crucial documents that have strongly influenced the teaching of Chinese as a second language in this nation. The five key documents are:

1. National Policy on Languages—1987
2. Australia's Language: The Australian Language and Literacy Policy—1991
3. The National Asian Languages and Studies in Australian Schools (NALSAS)—1994

4. National Asian Languages and Studies in School Program (NALSSP)—2005
5. Australia in the Asian Century White Paper—2012

Australia is unique among English-dominant countries for its consistent and continuing efforts to establish a comprehensive and systematic approach to language and literacy policy. The breakthrough achieved in the first national language policy came about as a result of the collaborative evolution of broad areas, and the production of detailed guidelines for principles for action to be taken in various areas. In 1984 the Senate of the Parliament of Australia conducted an investigation in order to see if the development of a nationally coordinated approach to language policy would be in the interests of Australia. This two-year investigation came to the conclusion that developing and promulgating a systematic and comprehensive policy for all of Australia's language and literacy needs was necessary. It would involve all jurisdictions and communities including non-government structures and agencies. Consequently, preparation of such a policy was started in late 1986 and, after extensive consultations in all the states and territories, it was published as a government document known as *The National Policy on Languages* (NPL) (Lo Bianco 1987).

The National Policy on Languages consists of a lengthy text containing principles and recommendations regarding all languages in Australia, for instance, standard English as the national language, community languages including indigenous and immigrants' languages, foreign languages including Asian and European languages, etc. These principles can be summarized as follows:

- All Australians gain high levels of literacy in standard Australian English.
- All Australians achieve bilingualism, either by maintaining languages other than English as they acquire English as a second language, or by adding second languages to their existing English.
- Indigenous and islander languages will be acknowledged as a unique and irreplaceable heritage of Australia and energetic efforts will be made to preserve, restore, and secure these languages.
- Equitable and widespread professional language services will be encouraged.

As shown above, in the first place, standard Australian English is regarded as the first priority for the whole nation. Australia expects that all its citizens should reach high levels of English proficiency. Hence all the people living in this country, whether they are adults or children, male or female, from any ethnic background or socioeconomic status, must learn standard Australian English, including literacy for everyday communication and for their profession or occupation. The immigrants whose first language is not English must learn English as a second language and communicate nationwide with local native speakers in standard Australian English. At the same time, the importance of languages other than English (LOTEs), including Australian Sign Language (Auslan), is also emphasized because they are used by immigrants as their first languages before their arrival in Australia or by people who have special needs. Learning languages other than English plays a significant role in language maintenance in multicultural and multilingual communities and in encouragement and enhancement of learning these languages as a second or a foreign language, which brings benefits to the nation. In addition, Indigenous and islander languages represent Australia's unique and irreplaceable linguistic heritage. Great efforts have been made to preserve these languages by recording, teaching, and learning.

In order to promote all the languages mentioned above and provide a professional service, an organization known as 'Language Australia' or 'The National Languages and Literacy

Institute of Australia' was established in 1989 by the Australian Research Council in the process of implementing the NPL. Based in the capital of the nation, Language Australia has coordinated research and policy through the efforts of 32 specialist centers across Australia. These centers are focusing on various fields as diverse as sign language, interpretation and translation, English as a second language, literacy in English and bilingual literacy, adult literacy and adult English as a second language, as well as in community (heritage) languages involving sociolinguistic research and teaching materials development.

In the light of the NPL, the State and Territory governments have developed their own policies, structures, and programs in order to implement the policy within a national framework in accordance with regional variations in demography and linguistic environment. Each state and territory government has made some modifications but relatively cohesive systems of collaboration between public and community providers of language education have been established. The impact of the promulgation of the NPL was very strong and has changed the previously unplanned processes of language teaching and learning in Australia. There have been at least three noticeable changes since the NPL was implemented.

First, languages in Australia, whether English, LOTE, indigenous language or sign language, are regarded as a rich resource for the nation. They are equally important as a vital national resource although English is given first priority. From time to time, Australia's multi-cultural policy has been questioned and challenged by immigrants whose first language is English, which has led to controversy over the English-language proficiency of this portion of the Australian population. In the perspective of the NPL, the teaching and learning of English is not a political concern about whether or not immigrants should be accepted but pedagogical attention to the means of establishing the standards of assessed literacy performance for both children and adults. English-language teaching is not perceived to be an immigration-connected issue but rather an educational endeavor to improve the national language level of the whole population of Australia.

Second, the importance of teaching and learning LOTE has been widely accepted and the recognition of language planning in terms of competence and regional demographic difference has led each state to work out state-specific programs. In Victoria, a state policy on languages has been developed to meet identified needs. For example, Melbourne has the largest Greek-speaking population, apart from Greece, therefore the teaching of Greek is common in the curriculum of some schools. Chinese is also commonly taught in community schools because of the large Chinese community. The most widely taught languages, in the state of Victoria, are in alphabetical order, Chinese, French, German, Indonesian, Italian, Japanese, Greek, and Vietnamese. On the other hand, the Northern Territory has a much higher proportion of spoken Aboriginal languages and its location is close to Indonesia. For this reason, indigenous languages and Indonesian are emphasized in comparison with other languages.

Third, the establishment of specialist research centers has provided full research support to language education. New language teaching materials for both primary and secondary schools are being developed and compiled. Schools in both the government sector and the Catholic school system as well as the independent school sector all over the nation have witnessed a continual expansion in language education, indicating that national policy initiatives have received full acceptance from all states and territories.

Four years after the first-language policy was issued, in 1991, the former Federal Minister for Employment, Education and Training, Dawkins, wrote a report on the Australian Language and Literacy Policy (ALLP), putting forward English language and literacy as the primary concern for school teaching. In spite of the fact that LOTE were seen as important resources, financial commitment was limited, consequently, priority was given only to languages of broader national

interest to Australia (DEET 1991). Apart from the traditionally influential European languages such as French, German, and Modern Greek, only three Asian languages, namely Japanese, Indonesian, and Chinese, have been prioritized in all states and territories. In line with the Australian governments' increasing attention to the economic benefits of the multilingual workforce, there have been great efforts to promote language education. Language diversity and multicultural imperatives, solo English language and literacy, and economically strategic Asian languages have all been at some point the priority funding area of the national language policies (Ozolins 2004).

In 1994, the Council of Australian Governments (COAG) published a significant document known as the 'Rudd Report' entitled *Asian Languages and Australia's Economic Future*. At that time, Kevin Rudd was an associate professor at the Australian National University. Later he became the Prime Minister of Australia, one of the very few Western leaders who can speak Chinese. He wrote this report which initiated a strategy on National Asian Languages and Studies in Australian Schools (NALSAS). The strategy is an eight-year plan (1994–2002) that received cooperative endorsements from the commonwealth, state, and territory governments. Four key Asian languages, namely, Chinese, Japanese, Indonesian, and Korean, are recommended on the basis of the economic importance of countries with which Australia has close trading relationships. NALSAS aimed for 60 percent of all Year 10 students to study one of the four key Asian languages by 2004, 25 percent of Year 12 students to learn a LOTE and 15 percent of Year 12 students to study a key Asian language. This was the most ambitious plan ever to be put forward by an Australian government.

By implementing the NALSAS strategy, the government invested over \$208 million to support teaching and research in the four key Asian languages for eight years. In addition, an extra grant of \$1.2 million was provided to the Asia Education Foundation (AEF) each year. New teaching resources, professional development, and research activities related to the four key Asian languages were strongly supported. NALSAS was terminated with its completion in 2014. As a continuation of the NALSAS strategy, another four-year plan was launched as the National Asian Languages and Studies in School Program (NALSSP 2008–2012) with an additional \$62 million devoted to the promotion of the key Asian languages including Chinese.

There is no doubt that the economic globalization and the geographical ties to Asian countries have made the Australian government realize that its economy has been increasingly relying on its Asian neighbors rather than on the traditional European trading partners. Taking China and Japan as examples, Japan used to be the largest trading partner with Australia. But that position was replaced by China because of the booming economy and the extent of mineral resources imported from Australia. Understanding the language and culture of the second economic power is directly linked to national benefits for Australia. Apart from that, there is an increasing need for teaching and learning Chinese in Australian schools as a result of the demographic changes in the immigrant populations. The Asian migrant intake has for the first time been overwhelming in comparison with the decreasing European migrant population. Chinese migrants have constituted a high percentage of the total migrant intake in recent years. Moreover, there has been very intensive internal pressure and demand from local communities to have stronger community language support, and, in particular, Chinese language teaching in community schools has been supported by the state government and various private sector organizations.

In 2012, another important document was issued by the Labour government known as the *Australia in the Asian Century White Paper*. This document is not a language policy but has also had a strong impact on education in Australian schools. It is an ambitious plan which sets out what actions can be taken by Australian governments, businesses, and communities in order for Australia to become a more Asia-literate and Asia-capable nation. The White Paper consists of

targets for Australia in 2025 to ensure Australia can fulfill its ambitions and compete effectively within Asia and its Asian engagement, particularly with China. It clearly demonstrates that Australia supports China's participation in the region's strategic, political, and economic development. Australia welcomes China's rise, not just because of the economic and social benefits it has brought to China's people and the region, but also because it deepens and strengthens the entire international system. The White Paper points out that all Australian students should have the opportunity and be encouraged to study an Asian language, including Chinese.

The Impact on the Teaching of Chinese in Community Schools

Chinese language teaching in community schools has been enhanced as a result of the implementation of the Australian Governments' policies, which have strongly influenced the teaching of Chinese as a second language in this nation. Before the Australian language policies were issued, the teaching of Chinese in community schools had a long history as a result of attempts at maintaining the cultural heritage by the special ethnic group of Chinese migrants. The first Chinese community school was established by early Chinese migrants in 1909, in other words, Chinese language teaching has existed in Australia for over a century. In spite of its long history, the Australian Government paid little attention to the ethnic language schools until the official language policies were established. Chinese has been regarded as a community/ethnic/minority language, which was to be maintained by the ethnic groups as well as preserved in the light of national policies. However, the teaching of Chinese language and culture has been restricted to local Chinese communities rather than mainstream schools (Smith et al. 1993). In the early stage of Chinese community schools, the learners were children with Chinese background. There was no established syllabus to follow and no well-compiled textbook from which to teach. The teaching and learning relied totally on the teachers' decision and their Chinese language proficiency. As a matter of fact, most of the teachers in Chinese community schools neither had former teacher training nor held any qualification for teaching Chinese. In most cases, the Chinese teachers themselves were community leaders and parents who wanted their children to learn Chinese as a cultural heritage. In other words, the purpose of learning the Chinese language was to maintain cultural identity and pass on cultural traditions and values to the coming generations in an English-speaking environment.

Chinese community schools in Australia were usually small in scale, and it was often difficult to maintain continuity of teaching due to financial limitations and the varying availability of teachers (Smith et al. 1993). The community schools often delivered Chinese language classes at night or on the weekends to students who were predominantly from a family of Chinese heritage background. Because of the heterogeneity of the early Chinese migrants who came from different regions and countries, teaching of 'Chinese language' could refer to different varieties or dialects of Chinese as these migrants formed their own sub-communities and community schools, and determined their own teaching content regarding language and culture. For instance, in Melbourne, a cluster of Chinese language schools were organized and sponsored by the Taiwanese 'Committee of Overseas Chinese' before Australia established diplomatic relations with the P. R. China. The Chinese Association of Victoria, consisting of migrants from Singapore and Malaysia followed the syllabus issued by the Singapore government. Obviously, in addition to the linguistic variations of the 'Chinese language', the cultural content differed across various sub-groups. With regard to curriculum guidelines, few Chinese community schools had clear objectives or detailed curriculum outlines. Lack of teaching materials and teaching facilities was characteristic of the community schools, not to mention the lack of teacher training for the teachers, but this situation has been changing since the issuing of national language policies

(Sun 2007). The teaching of Chinese in community schools has been closely linked with mainstream schools since the commonwealth and state governments have been encouraging the promotion of Chinese as a community language as well as one of the Languages Other Than English in the curricula of mainstream schools.

It is noticeable that Chinese community schools flourished for a period after the establishment of the Commonwealth Sponsored Community Schools Programme in 1981. During the 1980s, Chinese community schools were established in all major population centers in Australia, notably big cities like Melbourne and Sydney (Smith et al. 1993). According to Orton (2010), the student enrollment reached 11,274 by 2005. The community schools continued to grow in spite of the fact that the funding for these schools had been transferred to and was administered by state governments under the Ethnic School Program (ESP).

Realizing the significant roles played by ethnic communities in providing language maintenance programs, the ESP determined to collaborate with the relevant community groups to address the common issues of accessing the best teaching resources and adopting the most effective pedagogical approaches (DEET 1991). Obviously, the state governments were committed to linking and aligning the teaching of community languages with mainstream language programs in the official education system. Chinese teaching began to be widely incorporated into mainstream school curricula after the issuing of the ALLP in 1991.

With the states of Victoria and New South Wales taking the lead, Mandarin Chinese has been taught as part of the curriculum in primary and secondary education systems, including state, Catholic, and independent schools all over the country. According to Orton (2010) 319 schools in Australia offered Chinese language programs, with a total enrollment of 77,453 students in primary and secondary school sectors and 4,534 students (5.85%) in Year 12 for the HSC (High School Certificate) examination.

But not every school provides Mandarin programs. If students from a mainstream school, regardless of their background, want to learn Chinese, but the classes are not offered in their school, they are encouraged by the state government to study in one of the local Chinese community schools after school hours. Classes can be conducted face to face, but distance education is also offered. Credit points gained in the assessments can be converted and used in the mainstream school system. The largest community school in Australia as well as in the Southern Hemisphere, named *Xinjinshan Chinese Language and Culture School*, in Melbourne, is an outstanding example of community schools that provide support to Chinese language teaching in mainstream schools in the state of Victoria.

Xinjinshan Chinese language and Culture School is located in the eastern suburbs of the great metropolis of Melbourne. Apart from its headquarters building, which consists of offices, a classroom and a library, operating seven days a week, the school takes advantage of using various mainstream secondary school campuses scattered over the metropolitan area. The school has a total number of 4,200 students and 300 teachers. Among them, most are qualified teachers of Chinese who have been teaching in the mainstream primary or secondary schools. There are two Chinese language programs in this community school, namely, 'General Chinese Learning' (GCL) and Chinese for 'Victorian Certification of Education' (VCE). On the one hand, the Chinese teaching is open to the public, regardless of age, gender, and ethnic background, who wish to learn Chinese for various purposes. The courses are designed in accordance with proficiency levels and divided into two categories, Chinese as a first language and Chinese as a second language. The GCE program does not follow any official, detailed curriculum guidelines. On the other hand, the VCE program is specifically prepared and designed exclusively for Year 11 and Year 12 secondary students who are learning Chinese as a LOTE subject in the mainstream school system. Among the entire student population of 4200, approximately 780

students are enrolled in the VCE Chinese program. The teaching of VCE strictly follows the Chinese syllabus, developed by the department of Education and Training of the Victorian State Government. This community school is supported by the Victorian government from which it receives \$190 per student enrolled. Apart from the certified teachers for the VCE program, the teachers receive 10-week teacher training organized by local universities and sponsored by the state government. *Xinjinshan School* also sends teachers to independent schools to start their Chinese programs. Cooperation with after-school care centers has enabled *Xinjinshan School* to establish Chinese language and culture programs for 16 primary schools, where Chinese language learning starts as early as at lower primary level. Following *Xinjinshan's* example, many other similar community schools in various states function as a supplement to mainstream schooling, to provide these students with additional tutorials after school or during weekends. The Chinese language teaching is promoted by a close link and cooperation between the community schools and mainstream schools in Australia. In fact, Chinese language teaching in community schools has influenced the mainstream schools to establish programs of teaching Chinese as a LOTE. The former has also provided additional support to the latter in light of national language policies.

The Impact on Teaching of Chinese in Mainstream Schools

The implementation of the Australian Governments' language policies has had a great impact on mainstream schools' teaching material development, curriculum design, and methodology innovation. When Chinese language teaching was introduced to mainstream schools in Australia in the early 1980s, the lack of appropriate teaching materials was a critical problem for learners with English-speaking backgrounds in LOTE classrooms at these schools. The Australian Government provided teaching innovation grants to the higher education sector to compile teaching materials. For instance, Peter Chang et al. (1985, 1986, 1990) from Griffiths University developed the first set of three textbooks for Chinese teaching for beginner, intermediate, and advanced levels since the mid-1980s. As a result, these textbooks were adopted widely by both community and mainstream schools in Australia. This set of textbooks gradually came to be regarded as appropriate Chinese language teaching content by the various states because the textbooks could be seen as a brief syllabus guideline for Chinese teaching used nationally for primary and secondary schools. But the contents of this set of textbooks were designed for all learners across the country at two levels, namely the K-10 years and the 11-12 years, regardless of their background. Obviously, the contents were not appropriate for those students who were from Chinese heritage background families. Therefore, additional textbooks were compiled and recommended including textbooks imported from overseas.

With the spread and advancement of the teaching of Chinese in mainstream secondary schools, the states and territories started writing their own curricula. Taking the Chinese syllabus in New South Wales as an example, the Board of Studies (BOS) issued two sets of syllabi for Chinese teaching in 2003: one for K-10 years and the other for 11-12 years. The syllabi consisted of six stages of learning Chinese, namely from Stage 1 to 3 (for years from K-6), students were expected to 'develop an awareness' of Chinese language (BOSTES 2003: 22). Moreover, from year 7-10, 100 hours per year were recommended for learning Chinese, as for other LOTEs. However, the design of the Chinese syllabus still did not take into consideration of the differentiated learners in mainstream schools. In the first place, the curriculum framework, used for the Chinese syllabus, was similar to those used for other LOTEs. In other words, the learning objectives, learning hours, and expected learning outcomes were the same as for European languages, such as French and German. Research shows that English-speaking learners need

much more time to learn Chinese than a European language if they wish to reach an equivalent level of proficiency (Smith et al. 1993). Using the same number of teaching hours to teach Chinese was not realistic to reach the same level as in European languages in spite of the high achievement goals set by the language policies.

Second, the linguistic and cultural backgrounds of Chinese learners were becoming extremely complicated (Lo Bianco and Liu 2007). Different learner backgrounds and proficiency levels in the same class led to many pedagogical problems in the process of teaching and learning. An equality issue was also raised when the same type of syllabus was used for both ethnic Chinese students and for other students without a Chinese background and any knowledge about Chinese language and culture. As a matter of fact, when the former became the majority of learners in a Chinese class, the latter often felt intimidated and threatened, resulting a high drop-out rate at the senior level (Orton 2010).

In order to meet the needs of Chinese heritage and non-heritage learners and to deal with the complicated classroom situation, streamed syllabi of Chinese were prepared for Year 12 students. Consequently, when students have reached Stage 6, which is the highest level known as the High School Certificate (HSC), they have four choices based on their linguistic background and needs: Stage 6 Syllabus—Chinese Beginners; Chinese Continuers; Chinese Extension; and Chinese Background Speakers. Among the four syllabi, the first three were designed for students with little linguistic background in Chinese. The last one was designed specifically for students who speak Mandarin or a Chinese dialect at home, and who have received formal education in Chinese schools before coming to Australia, including migrants' children or young international students enrolled in Australian secondary schools.

Apart from the efforts made at the state level, a national unified curriculum for Asian languages has also been under consideration. For instance, in 2010, New South Wales started developing a new national project for promoting heritage language programs for the four key Asian languages (Lo Bianco and Slaughter 2009). The target group was learners of Chinese who were born in Australia with an English-speaking background, but were not eligible to take the background speakers' examination for HSC. The new heritage language program has brought further changes in the Chinese language syllabus for various background learners of Chinese in secondary schools. This move promotes mutual understanding and intercultural communication between the Chinese heritage and non-Chinese heritage background students as the NSW HSC syllabus points out: 'The ability to communicate in Chinese contributes significantly to the sociocultural and economic understanding between Australia and Chinese-speaking countries and enables students to gain insights into the contributions that have been made by Chinese-speaking communities to Australian, and indeed to global, society' (BOSTES 2012: 7).

However, Chinese language teaching is still facing an unbalanced enrollment of learners in various states. The Australia-China Relations Institute (ACRI) released a fact sheet on November 2, 2015, which showed that only 0.1 percent (4,149) of the total of 3,694,101 Australian students who attended school took Year 12 Chinese in 2015, and unfortunately no more than 400 were of non-Chinese background. Obviously, this figure reveals that Chinese language teaching in Australian schools is gradually losing sight of non-Chinese background students. There is a warning that both Australian economic and strategic planners should be alarmed that Australia is fast approaching a situation in which only Australians of Chinese ethnicity will speak Chinese (Orton 2016). Therefore, it is time for a renewal of efforts to promote, protect, and even privilege the learning of Chinese in Australian schools. Schools are the main suppliers of students for universities, so the severe situation of Chinese language education in Australian schools is bound to impact the teaching and learning of Chinese language at the Australian tertiary education level.

The Impact on Teaching of Chinese in Higher Education

Following the national language policies, Chinese language and cultural studies have been offered in most Australian higher educational institutions through exploring the creation and representation of cultural identities and examining their linguistic impact on students' daily practices (Sit and Guo 2019). It is reported that Asian language enrollments such as in Chinese, Indonesian, and Japanese have been high in universities since 2001 (McLaren 2011). Besides, there has been government research on 'Asia Literacy and the Australian Teaching Workforce'. For instance, a summary collection by the Australian Institute for Teaching and School Leadership (AITSL) from various major research projects completed in the academic year 2012/13 (AITSL 2013), reports that the study led by a group of researchers from Deakin University has investigated the relationship between the teacher workforce and Asia literacy in Australia in 2013 (Halse et al. 2013). The results from large-scale surveys of Australian teachers and principals show support for the need, as argued in the White Paper on Australia in the Asian Century, that Australia connect with Asia, understand Asia, and acquire Asia-relevant capabilities.

The promotion of Mandarin Chinese at universities has become a major focus of such an objective in the current climate because of China's rapid economic rise and spread across the world and the fact that Mandarin is fast being seen as the second most-spoken language of the business world (White 2014). This has also led to the recognition that the need for Asian-literacy derives from the desire for an optimal economic future for Australia, not just the demands of the mining boom.

Many Australian universities have positioned the teaching and learning of Asian languages and studies as national objectives that are integral to national productivity and that give encouragement to Australian students to: 1) be exposed significantly to Asian studies across the curriculum to increase their cultural knowledge and skills work actively in the region; and 2) undertake a continuous course of study in an Asian language throughout their years of schooling (ACARA 2013). Particularly, the Melbourne Declaration on Educational Goals for Young Australians emphasizes that young Australians need to be 'Asia literate, engaging and building strong relationships with Asia' and able 'to relate to and communicate across cultures, especially the cultures and countries of Asia' (Ministerial Council on Education, Employment, Training, and Youth Affairs 2008: 4). Therefore, Chinese language teaching and learning is greatly promoted in the climate under which the nationally agreed goals for schooling are made in Australia to respond to the need to encourage and enable Australian citizens to prepare for a life closely intertwined with the Asian context. Furthermore, Mandarin Chinese has been identified as a must-have language for learners from kindergarten to university within and beyond the Asia-Pacific region (McLaren 2011).

Nevertheless, currently Chinese language education in Australia 'is in an abjectly abysmal state' as 'Chinese is difficult and often poorly taught' (White 2014: 2–3), despite the government's generous financial investment and amount of time, energy and the dedicated efforts of Australia-wide teachers of Chinese language. It is argued that many Chinese language programs need to be better equipped with fundamental knowledge, language teaching methodology, curriculum development and evaluation. There is an urgent need for the Australian schools to boost the number of students learning Chinese, especially those who are non-Chinese background learners.

Moreover, the question of how to train qualified Chinese teachers who are linguistically and culturally competent has become a major concern in CSL/CFL education globally (e.g. Chen and Yeung 2015; Moloney and Xu 2015; Sit and Guo 2019). For example, teachers trained in China might be linguistically strong, but they might not be pedagogically effective to teach in a

Western educational context (Chen and Yeung 2015); teachers trained in Australia may be skillful in utilising language teaching methods and practices, but their Chinese linguistic proficiency might need to be further enhanced when operating in an immersion background (Moloney and Xu 2015); and investigations of pedagogy and practices to implement the learning and teaching of Chinese in a blended learning mode (Sit and Guo 2019). These studies share one common feature that being bilingual teachers, they need to have good command of both languages and cultures, second language (L2) pedagogy and curriculum, and use of technology to transform the traditional teaching and learning mode. In Australia, it is also found that the shortage of well-trained or suitably qualified CFL teachers has become one of the major reasons to hinder the development of Chinese language teaching. Thus, a professional development program that specializes in teaching Chinese at different schooling levels should be developed to meet the varying needs of both the national and international educational markets.

Another common challenge revealed in the literature is that, due to the differences in pedagogical approaches, exposure to Chinese language, practice opportunities, and actual time spent on learning on the language, there is a limited number of non-heritage Chinese learners or non-native Chinese language teachers who are functionally literate in Chinese (White 2014). White (2014), further supported by Orton (2016), points out that some existing challenges that non-native-speaker teachers are likely to face involve knowing how to accurately model authentic Chinese to their students; while for the native-speaker teachers, the magnitude of the task is to effectively involve Australian students of non-Chinese background in their Chinese classrooms; moreover, the current use of teaching methodologies and curriculum design should be re-examined to better fit the Australian education system.

As discussed by Cooper (1999) earlier, L2 students, with insufficient knowledge of vocabulary, have to be assisted in learning the language by means of various strategies (i.e. using their background knowledge or mother tongue to guess the meaning within a context, in cases where the non-literal language is difficult to process). This is because L2 learners do not share the familiarity with the sociocultural context of the target language which advanced learners or native speakers are able to assume. Therefore, teachers are also highly encouraged to use a non-literal discourse that helps connect 'a common sociolinguistic background with the addressee of their utterances' to facilitate students' second language learning (Krawczyk 2017: 20).

Currently a trend in higher education is the assumption that combining Chinese with other popular disciplinary studies such as accounting and business may be attractive to many domestic and international students since graduates may wish to use Chinese professionally upon graduation. There is no doubt that Chinese is important and essential in a wide range of careers such as teaching, business, law, or the representation of Australian government or companies in China. For this reason, numerous scholars have explored Australian Chinese language teaching from different professional perspectives. For example, Clyne and Kipp (1997) have focused on China's historical development; Lo Bianco and Liu (2007) have discussed Australian national language policies and the Chinese language teaching environment; Orton (2010) has provided an overall view on the state of Chinese language education in Australian schools; Wang, Moloney and Li (2013) and Scrimgeour (2014) have provided responses to the diversity of Chinese learners; Chen and Yeung (2014) and Sturak and Naughten (2010) have been concerned with Chinese teachers' composition and Chinese-teacher training, etc. As vital suppliers of employees for the global market, Australian universities need to prepare competitive graduates with an international perspective and communicative skills to better connect with the world, particularly its largest trading partner. Therefore, a task of top priority is to identify the pedagogical problems of existing Chinese language courses in Australian universities and explore strategies to improve them. The current Chinese language programs are obviously no longer able to meet the diverse

needs of learners of different identity and sociolinguistic backgrounds and with dissimilar learning motivations and objectives.

To sum up, Australia's unique geography predisposes it to special ties with Asian countries, especially with China, which is (a) a regional neighbor, (b) the largest trading partner, (c) the prime contemporary source of immigrant settlers, (d) a major source of international students, (d) a major source of tourists, (e) a major source of immigrant workforce, (f) a rising world economic power, and (g) a major destination for Australian tourists (Orton, 2008). And in order to create efficient interactions across nations, Australia has put great effort into education in Asian languages including Chinese. Although Chinese language teaching has enjoyed great progress in community schools from early stages of settlement and later in mainstream schools and universities, pedagogical problems have been identified in the social and cultural context of Australia. The teaching of Chinese at all levels in Australia is facing new challenges as the political and cultural situation in the Asia-Pacific Region and the world continues to change.

References

English References

- ACARA (Australian Curriculum Assessment and Reporting Authority) (2013) 'Asia and Australia's engagement with Asia'. Retrieved January 29, 2013 from www.australiancurriculum.edu.au/CrossCurriculumPriorities/Asia-and-Australias-engagement-with-Asia
- Australian Institute for Teaching and Learning Leadership-AITSL. (2013) 'Supporting planning and implementation: Students are studying the elective Engaging Asia'. Retrieved December 2, 2017 from www.aitsl.edu.au/tools-resources/resource/supporting-planning-and-implementation-illustration-of-practice
- BOSTES (Board of Studies Teaching and Educational Standards) (2003) *Chinese K-10 Syllabus Guide*. Australia: NSW.
- BOSTES (Board of Studies Teaching and Educational Standards) (2012) *HSC (Chinese) Syllabi*. Australia: NSW.
- Chang, P., Mackerras, A. et al. (1985) *Hanyu 1: Chinese for Beginners*. Melbourne: Griffith University with Longman Cheshire.
- Chang, P., Mackerras, A. et al. (1986) *Hanyu 2: Chinese for Beginners*. Melbourne: Griffith University Press.
- Chang, P., Mackerras, A. et al. (1990) *Hanyu 3: Chinese for Beginners*. Melbourne: Longman Cheshire.
- Chen, Z. and Yeung, A. S. (2015) 'Self-efficacy in Teaching Chinese as a Foreign Language in Australian Schools'. *Australian Journal of Teacher Education* 40(8): 24–42. doi: <http://dx.doi.org/10.14221/ajte.2015v40n8.2>
- Clyne, M. and Kipp, S. (1997) 'Trends and changes in home language use and shift in Australia, 1986–1996'. *Journal of Multilingual and Multicultural Development* 18(6): 451–473.
- COAG. (1994) *Asian Languages and Australia's Economic Future—A Report Prepared for the Council of Australian Government on a Proposed National Asian Languages/Studies Strategy for Australian Schools (Rudd Report)*. Brisbane: Queensland Government Printer.
- Cooper, C. T. (1999) 'Processing of idioms by L2 learners of English'. *TESOL Quarterly* 33: 233–262.
- DEET. (1991) *Australia's Language: The Australian Language and Literacy Policy*. Canberra: AGPS.
- Halse, C., Cloonan, A., Dyer, J., Kostogriz, A., Toe, D. and Weinmann, M. (2013) *Asia Literacy and the Australian Teaching Workforce*. Melbourne, VIC: Education Services Australia (SCSEEC).
- Krawczyk, T. R. (2017) 'Mind, language and experience: Improving the understanding of figurative language in EFL'. In E. Piechurska-Kuciel et al. (eds.), *At the Crossroads: Challenges of Foreign Language Learning, Second Language Learning and Teaching*, 19–35. Boston: Springer.
- Lo Bianco, J. (1987) *National Policy on Languages*. Canberra: Australian Government Publishing Service.
- Lo Bianco, J. and Liu, G. (2007) 'National language policy and Chinese language teaching environment in Australia'. *Chinese Teaching in the World* 3: 120–131.

- Lo Bianco, J. and Slaughter, Y. (2009) *Second Languages and Australian Schooling*. Victoria: Australian Council for Educational Research.
- McLaren, A. (2011) *Asian Language Enrolments in Australian Higher Education 2008–9 (Report Commissioned by the Asian Studies Association of Australia)*. Melbourne, Australia: ASAA.
- Moloney, R. and Xu, H.L. (2015) 'Transitioning beliefs in teachers of Chinese as a foreign language: An Australian case study'. *Cogent Education* 2: 1–15. doi: <http://dx.doi.org/10.1080/2331186X.2015.1024960>
- Orton, J. (2010) *The Current State of Chinese Language Education in Australian Schools*. Melbourne: The University of Melbourne.
- Orton, J. (2016) 'Issues in Chinese language teaching in Australian schools'. *Chinese Education & Society* 49(6): 369–375.
- Ozolins, U. (2004) 'Language policy and its rationales'. *Current Issues in Language Planning* 5(4): 361–375.
- Scrimgeour, A. (2014) 'Dealing with Chinese fever: The challenge of Chinese teaching in the Australian classroom'. In N. Murray and A. Scarino (eds.), *Dynamic Ecologies: A Relational Perspective on Languages Education in the Asia-Pacific Region*, 151–167. Germany: Springer.
- Sit, H.W. and Guo, S. (2019) 'An exploration of design principles to enhance students' L2 acquisition in a flipped class'. In A. Tso (ed.), *Digital Humanities and New Ways of Teaching. Digital Culture and Humanities (Challenges and Developments in a Globalized Asia)*, 111–131. Singapore: Springer.
- Smith, D., Chin, N. B. et al. (1993) *Unlocking Australia's Language Potential, Chinese Volume*. Deakin: Australian National Languages and Literacy Inst.
- Sturak, K. and Naughten, Z. (eds.) (2010) *The current state of Chinese, Indonesian, Japanese and Korean languages education in Australian school: Four languages, four stories*. Education Service Australia.
- Wang, D., Moloney, R. and Li, Z. (2013). Towards internationalising the curriculum: A case study of Chinese language teacher education programs in China and Australia. *Australian Journal of Teacher Education* 38(9), 116–135. doi:10.14221/ajte.2013v38n9.8
- White, R. (2014) 'In with Pinyin: How to improve Chinese language education in Australia'. Australia-China Youth Association. Retrived on June 16, 2018 from www.acya.org.au/2014/10/pinyin-improve-chinese-language-education-australia/

Chinese References

- Chen, Shen 陈申 (2014) '多元文化环境中的国际汉语师资培养研究' (*A Research on CSL Teacher Education in Multicultural Contexts*) 北京语言大学出版社. Beijing: Beijing Language and Culture University Press.
- Sun, Haoliang 孙浩良 (2007) '海外华文教育' (*The Education of Chinese Language from Abroad*) 上海人民出版社. Shanghai: Shanghai Renmin Chubanshe.

Bi/Multilingual Education, Translation, and Social Mobility in Xinjiang, China

Saihong Li

Introduction

This chapter analyzes attitudes to bi/multilingual education, translation, and social mobility in the multi-ethnic region of Xinjiang, China. It uses empirical fieldwork conducted through questionnaires, interviews, and participant observation in the form of a triangulation method, and references Antonio Gramsci (1971)'s glottopolitical writings on language and political theory (Carlucci 2014) to highlight the successful elements of bi/multilingual education and policy in Xinjiang and to formulate recommendations for improvements. The chapter's objectives are threefold: 1) to evaluate current forms of bilingual education in Xinjiang within the curriculum as a whole, and to assess the importance of using the medium of specific languages and also translation in the classroom (such as Mandarin and Uyghur) to support learning and language acquisition among the region's various ethnic groups at primary and secondary schools and in higher education institutions; 2) to assess the attitudes of different ethnic groups towards current bi/multilingual education policy and its evolution in Xinjiang; and 3) to develop proposals concerning the preservation of minority culture and languages while also diffusing the benefits of Mandarin and English for career enhancement, without exacerbating the tensions that exist between unity and diversity. It is argued that Gramsci's glottopolitical writings are a valuable template for openness regarding linguistic diversity and for a balanced language policy based on 'plurality within unity' (多元一体化格局).

There are 56 officially recognized ethnicities in China, Han Chinese comprising 91.5 percent of the population, while the remaining 8.5 percent are ethnic minorities (National Bureau of Statistics of China 2018). These minorities reside mainly in the five autonomous regions¹—Guangxi, Inner Mongolia, Ningxia, Tibet, and Xinjiang—which, although subject to central government control, have some autonomy concerning the 'administration of resources, taxes, birth planning, education, legal jurisdiction and religious expression' (Gladney 1994: 185). Since 1949, language policies have had a vital role in nation building, especially in China's 'Western Region Development Strategy' of 1999. Language policies implemented in bilingual education, particularly in Xinjiang and Tibet, have strongly influenced economic development and the communications infrastructure. However, what has generally been beneficial in economic terms has sometimes been perceived negatively in terms of ethnic relations, particularly from a Han Chinese viewpoint.

Xinjiang is officially known as the Xinjiang Uyghur Autonomous Region and it borders countries including India, Mongolia, and Kazakhstan. Around 40 percent of the population are Han Chinese, while over 60 percent of people belong to ethnic minorities such as Kazakhs, Hui, Xibo, and Uzbeks. Muslim Turkish-speaking Uyghurs form the largest minority (46%). The socio-ethnic tensions within Xinjiang turned violent in 2009, making it an area whose significance resonates far beyond Chinese and East Asian studies. Language policy is seldom mentioned as a factor contributing either to ethnic conflict or to more effective integration; this chapter explores the potential benefits of a balanced, cohesive language policy to reflect the aspirations of the region's diverse population.

Since the Open-up Economic Reforms Policy in 1978, China's economy has accelerated. However, income inequality and economic disparities have increased in recent decades, especially in autonomous regions such as Xinjiang. The links between language, communication, social mobility, and economic prosperity require closer examination. Within China's borders there are 299 living languages listed as being spoken, 14 of which are institutional, and it is acknowledged that this linguistic diversity hinders communication and economic development (Ping 2016). Mandarin Chinese, which is based on Northern dialects and Beijing dialect, is the official Chinese language. It is used as a lingua franca between people of different linguistic backgrounds, particularly in Xinjiang. Since 1956, the Chinese government has pursued a nationwide campaign to promote Mandarin Chinese in bi/multilingual education in order to maintain national integration and unity.

Bi/Multilingual Language Policy in China

Bilingual education refers to education 'where two (or more) languages are used for teaching and learning for some, most or all of the curriculum' (Wright and Baker 2017: 66). This chapter uses data from questionnaires and interviews to ascertain the effectiveness of current bilingual approaches to education in China, and how these should be developed to maintain cultural identities and provide better career opportunities. China's bilingual language policy has evolved through five different stages, which have been driven by the country's sociopolitical changes since the founding of the P.R. China in 1949.

The initial stage lasted from 1949 to 1956, when the Chinese government encouraged bilingual education and bilingualism, especially in the autonomous regions. Different ethnic groups were educated separately in their own languages both at primary and secondary schools; the government provided funds to translate textbooks and literature into and out of Chinese. Mandarin was offered as a second language or a supplementary subject (Zhou 2001). Many minority language publications were also founded during this period; over 50 ethnic language newspapers were published in Xinjiang, including *Qapqal News*, the world's only Xibo language newspaper (Feng and Sunuodula 2009).

The second stage was the 'stagnancy stage' (1958–1976). After 1958, following the second national conference on minority languages, bilingual education was politically and linguistically discouraged. During the Cultural Revolution (1966–1976), language policy changed from the encouragement of ethnic languages to their repression. Minority schools suffered major disruption, and students were forced to learn Chinese and to focus on Mao's works. This radical assimilation damaged both bilingual education and China's pluralistic unity (Lin 1997). The third stage, the 'recovery and development' stage, evolved from the late 1970s to the 1990s when Deng Xiaoping started the Open-up economic reform policy. The Chinese government reiterated that minority languages should be used for teaching in primary and secondary schools; Mandarin Chinese became compulsory from the fourth year at primary

school and in secondary school. Three types of schools were established or reopened in ethnic minority areas: *Hanzu*-schools (汉族学校) (mainly for Han Chinese), *Minzu*-schools (民族学校) (for ethnic minority groups), and *Min-Han* bilingual schools (民汉双语学校) (for those wanting to learn both Chinese and a minority language). Education was prioritized across the country and bilingual education received significant support from China's central and local governments.

The fourth stage, 'the trilingual stage', started in 1998. The Olympic Games in Beijing and the influence of globalization in China increased the demand for people from ethnic minority groups who had advanced skill sets, and for bi/multilingual scholars. Different experimental models of trilingual education—using Mandarin, English, and minority languages—were promoted, and institutions at local and provincial levels played 'an active role in launching these programmes' (Zhao 2014: 239).

The fifth stage has been characterized by two changes—the promotion of bilingual education and the move towards joint Min-Han schools in replacing separate minority schooling since 2000. These approaches have contributed to a shift towards Mandarin pedagogy in Xinjiang schools. These changes occurred as a consequence of poor retention rates caused by separate schooling, plus concerns about 'unsatisfactory educational outcomes and low levels of proficiency in Chinese among minority students from ethnic schools', 'job attainment and income', and national security (Zhang and Yang 2018: 2–5). China's 'Mid- and Long-Term Educational Reforms and Development Plan for Schools' extended bilingual education to include two years before schooling at kindergarten level from 2012. Bilingual education was intensified in two provinces, Xinjiang and Qinghai, and was expected to focus more on learning Mandarin. This policy led bilingual education towards the tendency of 'plural monoculturalism' (Postiglione 2014), whereby 'students of all ethnic groups are placed in classes together, teaching plans are uniform, educational curriculums are uniform, evaluation standards are uniform, and graduation standards are uniform' (Simayi 2015: 370).

Gramsci's Glottopolitical Theory and Different Bi/Multilingual Education Models in China

Gramsci's Glottopolitical Writings and Their Impact on Chinese Bilingual Education

Antonio Gramsci's scholarship continues to be influential in the disciplines of linguistics, sociology, and political science. Gramsci's work on language and society closely reflects the more successful elements of bi/multilingual education policy in China, and also has relevance as a blueprint for its future refinement. He acknowledges the bipolar nature of language in that the individual features of language entail diversity, while its communicative social features facilitate uniformity. He argues that local/ethnic groups should be freely able to access both their ethnic language and the national language. Therefore, any attempt by central governments to impose standardized language policies will conflict with the individual, cultural, and micro-level use of language. By recognizing the contrasting dynamics between the diverse uses of language made by individuals and its communal use across a society, Gramsci indicated his philosophical support of bi/multilingual language policy as a means of reconciling diversity and unity, because 'diversity, including linguistic diversity, couldn't simply be denied, bureaucratically abolished or violently removed' (Carlucci 2014: 188). In contemporary economics, polyglots also benefit entire communities and play a central position in the global economy (De Swaan 2001), acting as an interface between the local and (inter)national.

Gramsci's sociolinguistic theories concerning the importance of diversity and unification in maintaining a harmonious society arguably reflect the guiding principle, since 1978, of Chinese ethics and the country's language policy. The concept of 'ethnic plurality within the organic unity of the Chinese Nation' (中华民族多元一体格局理论)² is also known as 'plurality within unity', and was a principle first elucidated by the Chinese anthropologist Xiaotong Fei (1989). His theory was further developed for the education system by Teng and Wang (2002) as the 'integration education framework' (多元文化整合教育理论), an approach that is widely practiced today via different bi/multilingual education models.

Different Bi/Multilingual Education Experimental Models in the Chinese Context

Echoing Gramsci's view of the bipolar nature of language and the complex nature of language education, May (2017) delineated four bi/multilingual education models based on subtractive or additive education philosophy: the transitional, maintenance, enrichment, and heritage language models. Subtractive bilingual theory endorses monolingual education, while additive bilingual theory promotes learning another language in addition to one's native language (Baker 2001). Transitional bilingual models are considered to be a subtractive bilingual approach because they do not aim for bilingualism or biliteracy; they use the learner's first (minority) language in the early stages of schooling and aim to shift the medium of instruction to the dominant language as quickly as possible (May 2017). The merging of minority schools with Chinese schools since 2009 in Xinjiang (Tsung and Cruickshank 2011) and the practice of *Neidi* boarding schools (内地班) at secondary school level exemplify this model.

The intention of the maintenance (or balanced) bilingual model is to preserve the minority language by encouraging learners to consolidate both their first language and a second language. The *Min-Han* bilingual schools were designed for this purpose in ethnic minority areas, and two languages are used as medium of instruction. Different maintenance models coexist in Xinjiang. For example, Minority-Han bilingual models enable the learning of both Mandarin and one minority language as '*Min-Han Jiantong*' (民汉兼通: efficient in both languages). Trilingual experimental models, aiming to ensure that students were '*sanyu jiantong*' (三语兼通: efficient in three languages) or '*fuhexing rencai*' (复合型人才: multi-skilled intellectuals), also emerged rapidly and were supported by Xinjiang's local governments.

Enrichment models are represented by *minzu*-schools (民族学校) in regions with many ethnic minorities. There, students learn their first language and have optional classes from Year 4 to learn Mandarin. These students attend minority schools where they learn Mandarin as a subject and all other subjects in Uyghur at primary school, secondary school, and *minzu*-universities (民族大学). However, this model has gradually been merged with bilingual schools and bilingual universities since 2009. Heritage models are rare in Xinjiang, and are only used in the form of cultural outlets such as newspapers (rather than education systems) for certain endangered minority languages such as Xibo.

Research Methodology and Fieldwork

The fieldwork for this chapter used questionnaires, participant observation, and interviews to obtain a representative sample of respondents from among the Han Chinese, Uyghur, and other minorities in Xinjiang. The data collection was organized in three stages via the triangulation method to collect responses to the following questions. Different stages were used to validate the data and to overcome the weaknesses and biases inherent in just one data collection method.

The questions were developed to elicit a spectrum of information ranging from the participants' preferences for certain languages as the medium of classroom instruction, to their level of satisfaction regarding the provision of bi/multilingual education.

1. How many languages have you learned at primary school, secondary school, and university?
2. What types of schools have you attended at primary, secondary, and university level?
3. Which languages do you think should be used as a medium of language in the classroom at primary schools, secondary schools, and in higher education?
4. Do you think teachers should provide translation (e.g. Uyghur into Mandarin) in the classroom at primary school, secondary school, and universities?
5. Are you satisfied with the current bi/multilingual education provision?
6. In your opinion, what are the reasons for implementing a bi/multilingual education policy in Xinjiang?

Stage 1 centered on questionnaires. Snowball methods, also known as chain-referral sampling, were used to collect questionnaire data via the social media platform WeChat. Questionnaires were distributed to my WeChat contacts and they answered the questions by using their smartphones. My contacts then sent the questionnaire to their contacts. The questionnaire was distributed in Chinese as a lingua franca. A total of 901 answers were collected within two weeks; the data of 745 participants who completed all questions was used. As shown in Figure 36.1, 39.73 percent are Uyghurs, 37.32 percent are Han Chinese, and the remaining 22.95 percent are from other ethnicities. SPSS (Version 23)—Statistical Package for the Social Sciences—was used to carry out the statistical analysis.

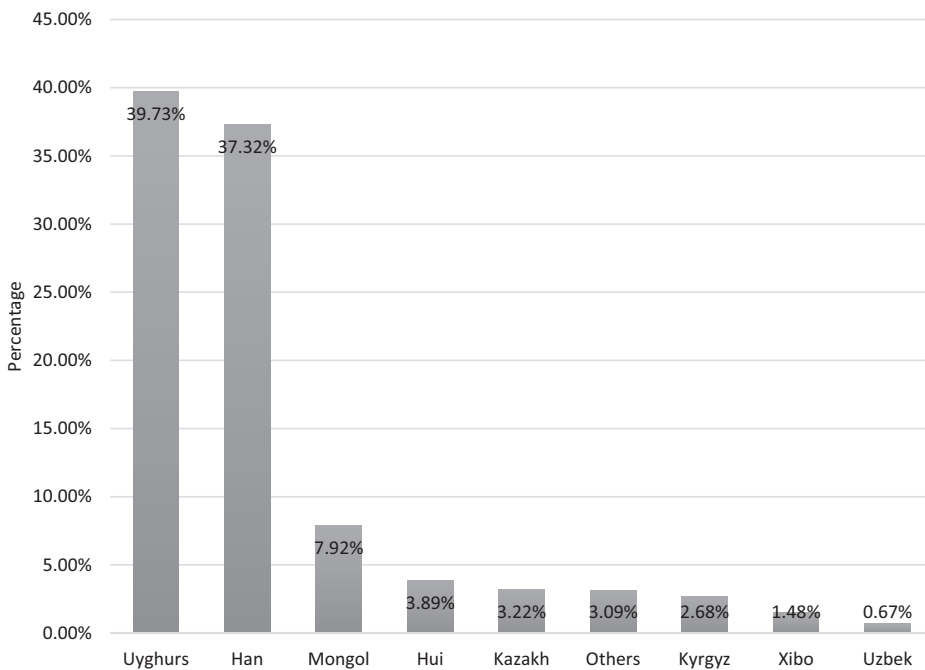


Figure 36.1 Ethnicity percentage of questionnaire participants from Xinjiang

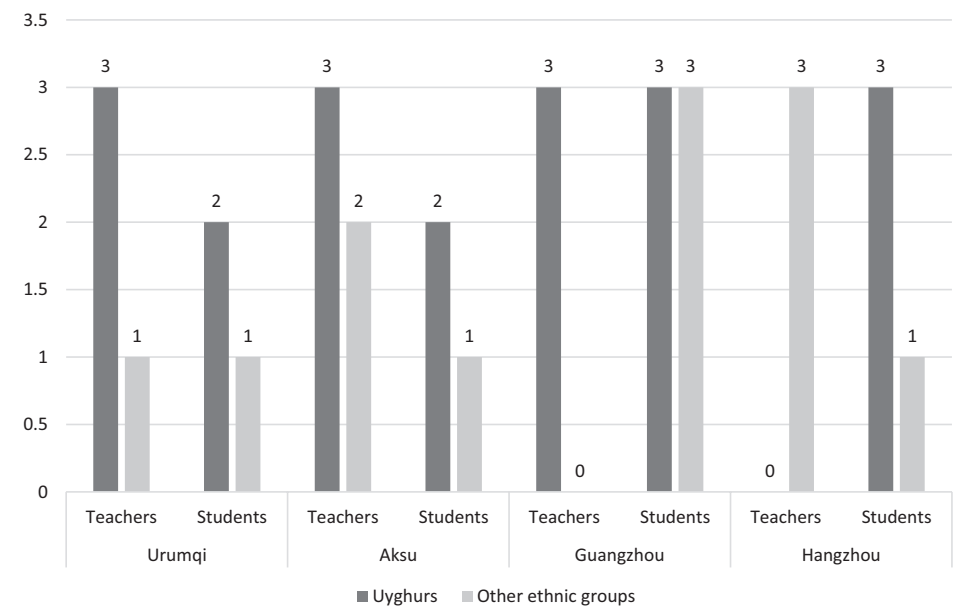


Figure 36.2 Participants from Xinjiang in the observation and interview stage

Stages 2 and 3 involved selected participants from Xinjiang’s ethnic minority groups. Stage 2 (participant observation in the context of active discussions of the implications of bilingual education), and Stage 3 (interviews) were carried out in four representative cities: two cities in Xinjiang—Urumqi and Aksu—and two metropolitan cities, Guangzhou and Hangzhou, where the interviewees now live.³ Urumqi is the capital of Xinjiang; in Aksu Prefecture, 75.90 percent of the population are Uyghurs, and therefore social and linguistic differences are keenly felt there. Guangzhou is the capital city of Guangdong; Hangzhou is the capital of Zhejiang province. Both cities offer Chinese language training programs and host many migrant workers from Xinjiang. Therefore, the four cities arguably reflect different aspects of the ethnic minority experience in contemporary China and are appropriate for the purposes of this research. The fieldwork was carried out in Mandarin as it is used as a lingua franca among different ethnic groups. The participants attended a workshop discussion of the same questionnaire questions related to implications of bi/multilingual education in Xinjiang; interviews followed the discussion workshop in order to elicit more detailed and personal responses. Both the interviews and observations were recorded and anonymized. In total there were 31 participants in Stage 2 and Stage 3, 15 teachers and 16 students, as shown in Figure 36.2. The following sections outline the participants’ perspectives on current bi/multilingual education in general, and their views on bilingualism in Xinjiang specifically.

The Participants’ Evaluation of Current Bi/Multilingual Education in Xinjiang

Evaluation of the Current Bi/Multilingual Education Experimental Models

In China, there are nine years of compulsory free education: six years of primary school and three years of junior middle school. Xinjiang residents also have access to three years of free

preschool education.⁴ In Xinjiang, at primary school level, Uyghur, Mandarin, Kazakh, Kyrgyz, Mongol, Xibo, and Russian are taught as languages and are also used as a medium for teaching in certain districts.

Languages that the Participants Learned

Question 1: 'How many languages have you learned at primary school, secondary school, and university?'

The questionnaire results concerning languages learned by Uyghurs and other ethnic groups are presented in Figure 36.3. The data confirmed that over 80 percent of the participants had learned more than two languages in Xinjiang since primary school; this includes the Han and Hui ethnic groups which learn English and other languages (including ethnic languages) as a second foreign language at schools. The Hui are a Muslim ethnic group in China whose first language is Mandarin Chinese. The average percentage of ethnic minority participants who learned three or more languages is over 65 percent; this compares to 37 percent of Han participants. The data suggests that most ethnic minority participants had learned more languages than the Han Chinese participants.

The results were corroborated by the information collected during the participants' observation and interview stages. All 31 participants in Stages 2 and 3 have learned more than three languages, including their ethnic language, English, and Mandarin, although some admitted that their Mandarin and English are relatively basic as they learned the languages at a late stage, after secondary school or at work: 'I learned Mandarin at university'; 'I learned Mandarin during the summer vacation as part of my continuous personal development organized by my school'. Some participants also mentioned reasons for their limited Mandarin, including: 'There is no need to speak Mandarin if you live in the countryside'. Some ethnic minority groups seemed particularly committed to maintaining their cultural roots: 'I am a Uyghur, I am proud of my

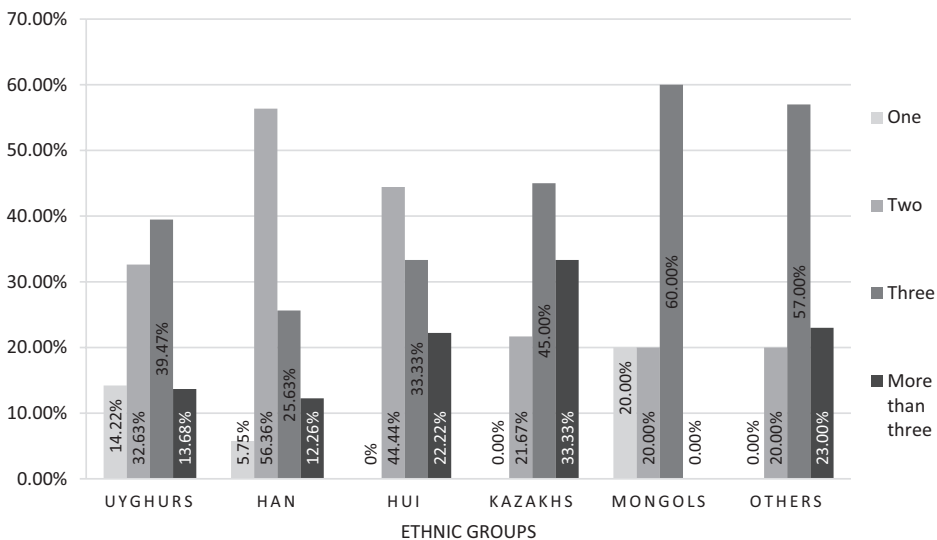


Figure 36.3 Numbers of languages that participants learned at school

culture and my language'; 'We have a rich Islamic culture and history'. The interview data indicated that many Uyghurs were strongly attached to their language, history, and culture, believing them to be worthy of respect. However, cases of assimilation sometimes emerged in the words of interviewees from other ethnicities. For example, a Mongol participant said: 'I married a Han Chinese; therefore, I feel like I am closer to Han Chinese'.

During the interviews, several Uyghur participants revealed their entrepreneurial activities by running private Mandarin training classes in Aksu, where over 70 percent of the population are Uyghurs: 'Many adults wanted to have individual lessons from me, as they feel uncomfortable going to class'. The results also indicated that traders, shopkeepers, and owners of small businesses are strongly motivated to learn Mandarin. One significant comment was: 'My brothers ran a restaurant and my neighbors are businessmen; they wanted to learn Mandarin so that they can do business more effectively'. The data suggests that while the ethnic minority participants from Xinjiang are loyal to their culture, they are strongly motivated to learn more languages in an ever-changing and increasingly competitive society. The interview data also showed a higher proficiency in Mandarin among younger people from ethnic minorities compared with the older generation. The level of Mandarin among the ethnic minority interviewees also differed between teachers and students. Some teachers admitted that they had only learned Mandarin as a subject at school. They revealed that the generation born after the 1990s has had opportunities to learn both Mandarin and Uyghur; however, not all their parents learned Mandarin. This partly explains the popularity of private Mandarin training classes, but in broader terms of community language provision there are lessons to be drawn from these findings; these are outlined in the Recommendations section.

Types of Schools/Universities

Question 2: 'What types of schools have you attended at primary, secondary, and university level?'

Figure 36.4 depicts the types of bi/multilingual institution that the participants attended: *Minzu* refers to minority schools, *Hanyu* to Mandarin schools, *Shuangyu* to bilingual schools, *Sanyu* to trilingual schools, while 'Others' refers to alternative types of education such as study abroad and vocational training. At primary school level, Figure 36.4 shows that Uyghurs and other ethnic groups often attend their own ethnic schools. For Uyghur participants, over 60 percent attend *minzu*-schools, 26.5 percent attend *shuangyu*-schools, and 10.5 percent go to *sanyu*-schools. Only 0.06 percent attend *hanyu*-schools. For other ethnic groups, the figures are 33.75 percent, 36.5 percent, 33.75 percent, and 24.5 percent for minority, trilingual, bilingual, and Mandarin schools respectively. Unsurprisingly, Han participants (79.47%) mainly attend *Hanyu*-schools.

At secondary school level, 34.5 percent of the Uyghur participants continue at minority schools; there is an increase (from 26.5% to 45%) for Uyghur participants who attend bilingual schools and trilingual schools (14.9%). For the other ethnic groups, 19.5 percent continue with minority schools, but most of them choose to frequent Mandarin schools (38.56%) and bilingual schools (29%). At university level, three choices, *Minzu*, *Hanyu*, and *Others* were given for this question. The results show that 40.5 percent, 45 percent, and 14.5 percent of Uyghurs attend *Minzu* and *Hanyu* universities or 'other' types of education respectively. A higher percentage of other ethnic groups seem more open to attending *Hanyu* universities (70%), with 25 percent attending *Minzu* universities.

The interview and observation data suggests that the participants opted for notably different varieties of bilingual education programs that exist at primary and secondary school levels

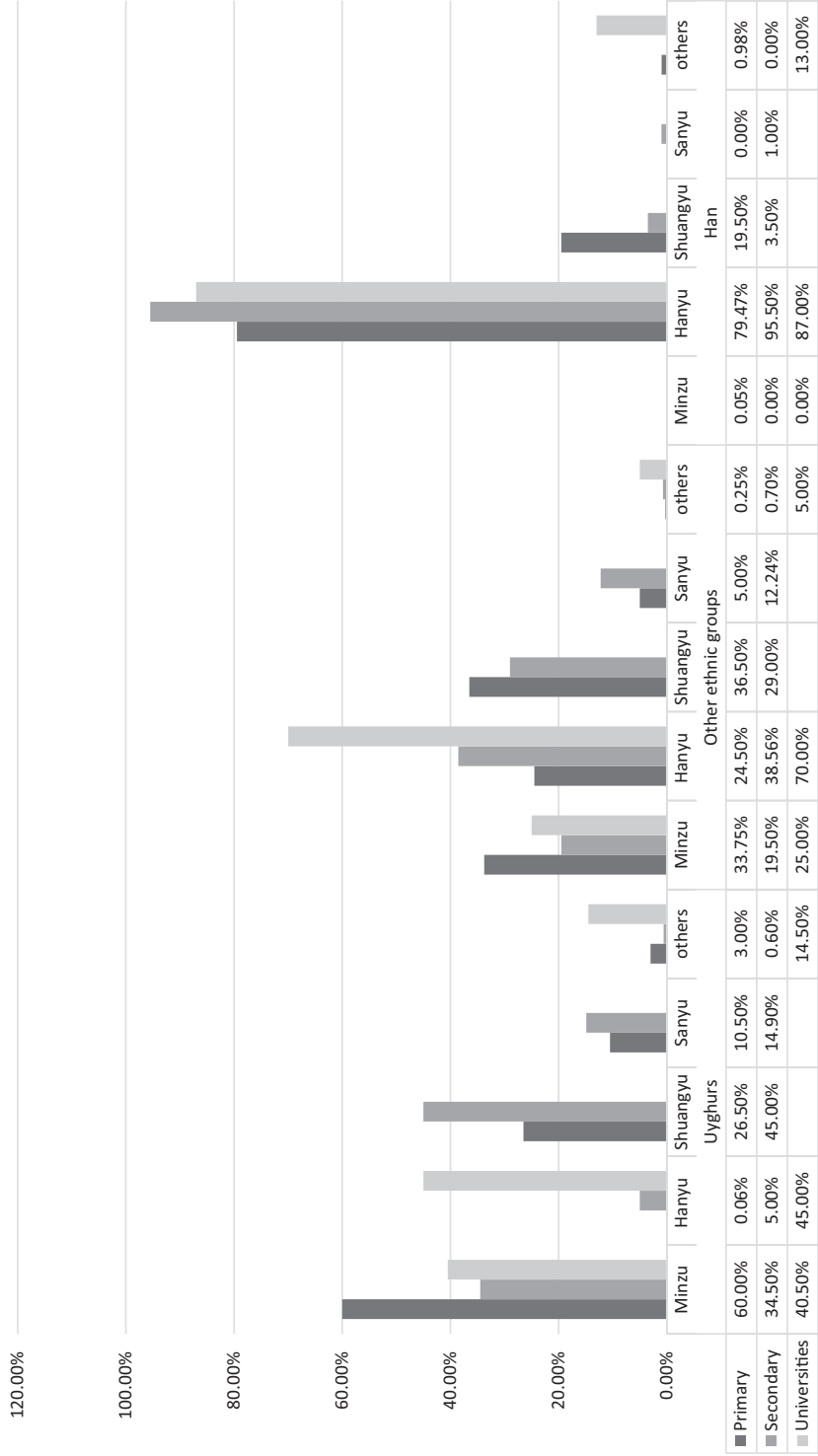


Figure 36.4 Types of bi/multilingual education at primary, secondary, and university levels

in China. Eighteen out of 31 participants revealed that they went to *Minzu* schools at primary level, and among them 10 continued with minority secondary schools and higher education. Seven attended bilingual secondary schools, two went to trilingual schools, and the rest frequented other types of schools. A few younger participants between 18 and 25 years old revealed that they attended *Neidi* boarding schools as mentioned above, which started in the 1980s. This program centers on the local (and the central) government providing ongoing financial and social support to academically gifted Uyghurs to enable them to study Mandarin in cities like Beijing. Despite some criticism about the way these minorities are integrated with Han Chinese, the program offers the necessary education to create an entrepreneurial elite with the skills to stimulate the economy of regions such as Xinjiang, assuming that individuals wish to return there.

The interviewees had differing preferences for specific bilingual education models; one Uyghur participant revealed that he attended Han-school: 'My father is a senior official in Urumqi; he sent me to Han-school as he thinks that I would have better career opportunities like him if I can speak fluent Mandarin'. In the discussion, some teacher participants also admitted: 'We are asked to teach more in Mandarin in classes' and 'this is very challenging as I used to teach in Uyghur, my native language, in classes'. Clearly, some participants had been affected by the language teaching model implemented in *Minhan* bilingual schools since 2002, whereby Mandarin has been the main language. Some native Uyghur teachers added: 'I think it is important to teach our children our own language and maintain our beautiful culture'. Regarding choices of universities, some participants revealed: 'I go to Han-university as I want to learn maths and work in a joint venture company'; 'I want to work at the university; therefore, it is important for me to be able to communicate with students of all ethnic groups'. Some teachers also admitted: 'It is difficult for me to keep up with the constant change of language policies at school'; 'I am under great pressure to learn Mandarin as now we are required to teach most subjects in Mandarin'; 'I was asked to teach in Uyghur five years ago, but now I must be able to teach in Mandarin, so I need Mandarin language training to keep my job'. All the teachers involved in the discussion stage agreed that the changes in bilingual education policy are disruptive, and admitted that they need to study during summer vacations in order to remain employed; they had traveled to Guangzhou and Hangzhou for this training.

Evaluation of the Medium of Language at Classroom Level

Question 3: 'Which languages do you think should be used as a medium of language in the classroom at primary schools, secondary schools, and in higher education?'

The medium of instruction at classroom level is regulated by the Xinjiang local government (Zhang and Yang 2018). Three types of language education systems—the Uyghur (or ethnic) language medium system, the Mandarin-medium system, and a dual-language system—coexisted at all levels of education from 1949 to the 1980s. Since 2011, two major changes have been introduced in Xinjiang: 1) most separate minority schools have been merged with Han schools to create joint Min-Han schools, and three languages have been introduced to the curriculum: Mandarin, a local ethnic language, and English; 2) two modes of bilingual education have increasingly been promoted at Min-Han schools; Mandarin as the main medium of language for most science subjects while all subjects are taught bilingually, and Mandarin as the instructional medium while minority languages take the form of additional subject courses (Ping 2016).

Figure 36.5 reveals the preferences of participants for languages used in teaching at primary and secondary school level. Over 70 percent of Uyghur and other ethnic group participants

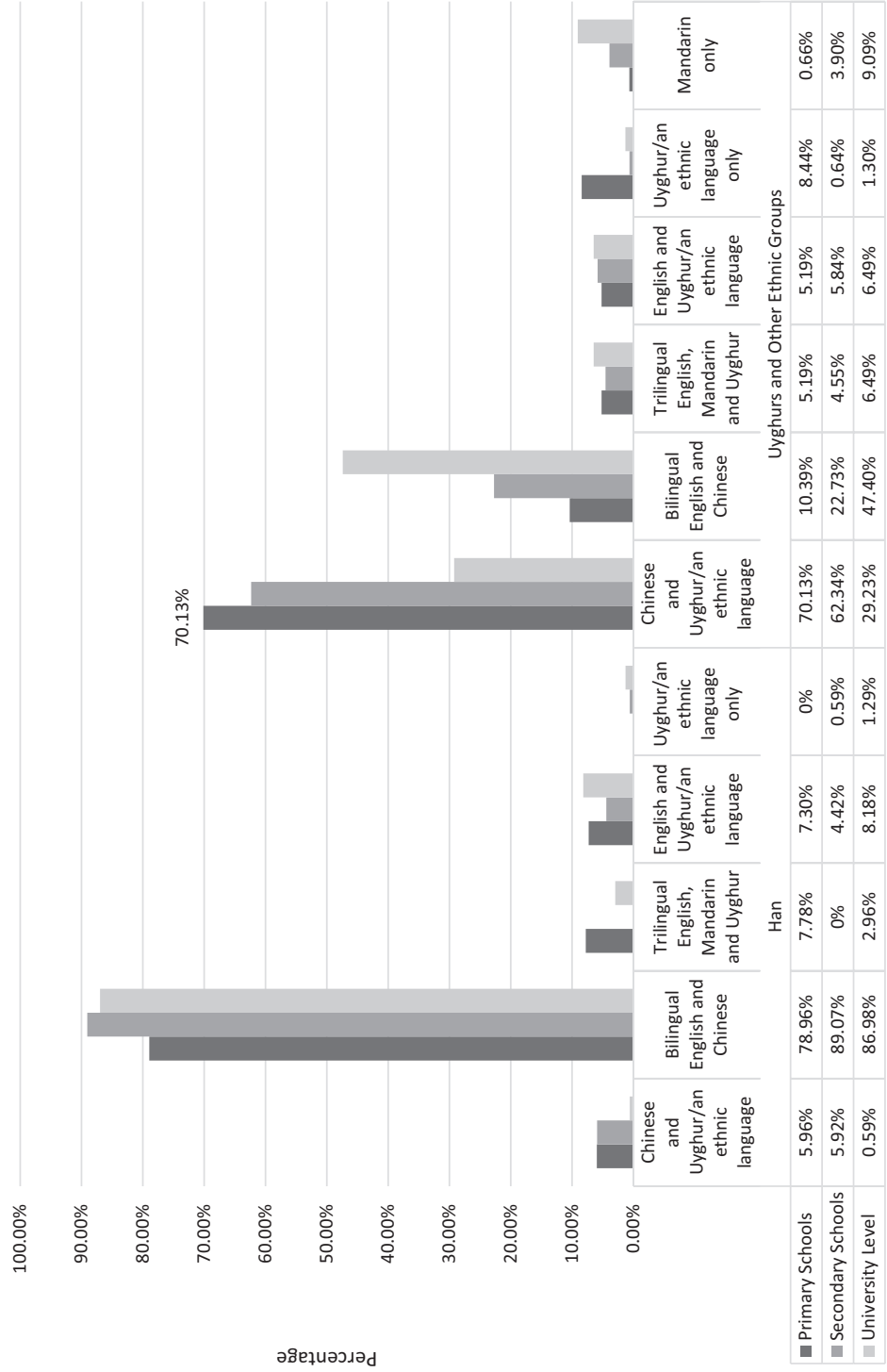


Figure 36.5 Participants' views on the medium of language that should be used at primary and secondary school level

believe that teaching at primary school level should be delivered with a bilingual approach, using languages such as Chinese and Uyghur. Over 62 percent believe that both languages should be used at secondary school level. This perspective echoes Gramsci's recognition of the importance of the cultural, community use of languages, and how this diversity needs to be incorporated into unity, in the form of a national language. Over 73 percent and 81 percent of Han participants, however, believe that both English and Chinese should be used in Xinjiang as languages of communication in primary and secondary schools respectively. Tsung and Cruickshank (2011) note that the Uyghur language was offered as a second language in many Han schools before the 1980s; however, globalization has incentivized many Han students to learn English rather than Uyghur.

Significantly, at university level, over 47 percent of ethnic minority participants believe that both Chinese and English should be major courses within the curriculum, and that both languages should be used as the medium for teaching these two courses. Twenty-nine percent of participants consider that both Chinese and Uyghur should be provided and used as a medium for communication in class. The data shows a steep fall in the participants' desire for the provision of Mandarin and Uyghur, compared to primary and secondary school level. The participants argue that since Mandarin is used to deliver many other university degree programs, it is important for them to increase their familiarity with Mandarin and improve their level.

In the discussion, several ethnic minority schoolteachers underlined the importance of using both Uyghur and Mandarin in class, because their dual use facilitates comprehension and assists learning in subjects like maths, physics, and chemistry at primary and secondary schools, and also improves social integration in later life: 'I felt it was difficult to understand my classmates during my first year at university as I learned Mandarin only in secondary school'. Several ethnic minority teachers admitted their occasional difficulty in expressing themselves well in Mandarin: 'I am more confident in explaining maths in my own language'. Some acknowledged that they need extra individual training in Mandarin. When discussing the languages needed for delivering classes at university level, some participants argued that it is more important to have access to training in English and Mandarin: 'My Uyghur is very proficient, so there's no need to learn more at university level'. Several teachers revealed that the secondary schools that employ them now use 70 percent Mandarin and 30 percent Uyghur. This is 20 percent more Mandarin than five years ago. Significantly, humanities subjects are often taught in Uyghur while science subjects are taught in Mandarin.

Evaluation of the Use of Translation in the Classroom

Data was collected concerning the participants' views on the use of translation—in the sense of a transfer of meaning rather than word-for-word translation—in classroom contexts. This is a key element of bi/multilingual education teaching methodology in Xinjiang, as it is believed to enhance learning and language acquisition at all levels (Harbord 1992).

Question 4: 'Do you think teachers should provide translation (e.g. Uyghur into Mandarin) in the classroom at primary school, secondary school, and universities?'

Figure 36.6 shows that a majority of people from ethnic minorities believe that the use of translation at primary school (over 60%) and secondary school (over 55%) is crucial. By contrast, at university level, only around 30 percent of the participants think that verbal translation is useful in class. The student participants involved in Stage 2 and Stage 3 argued that translation is useful 'for me to learn Mandarin and English', 'for reinforcement of structures previously learned', and 'for maths classes'. Some students proposed that it would be 'helpful to have Uyghur teachers to

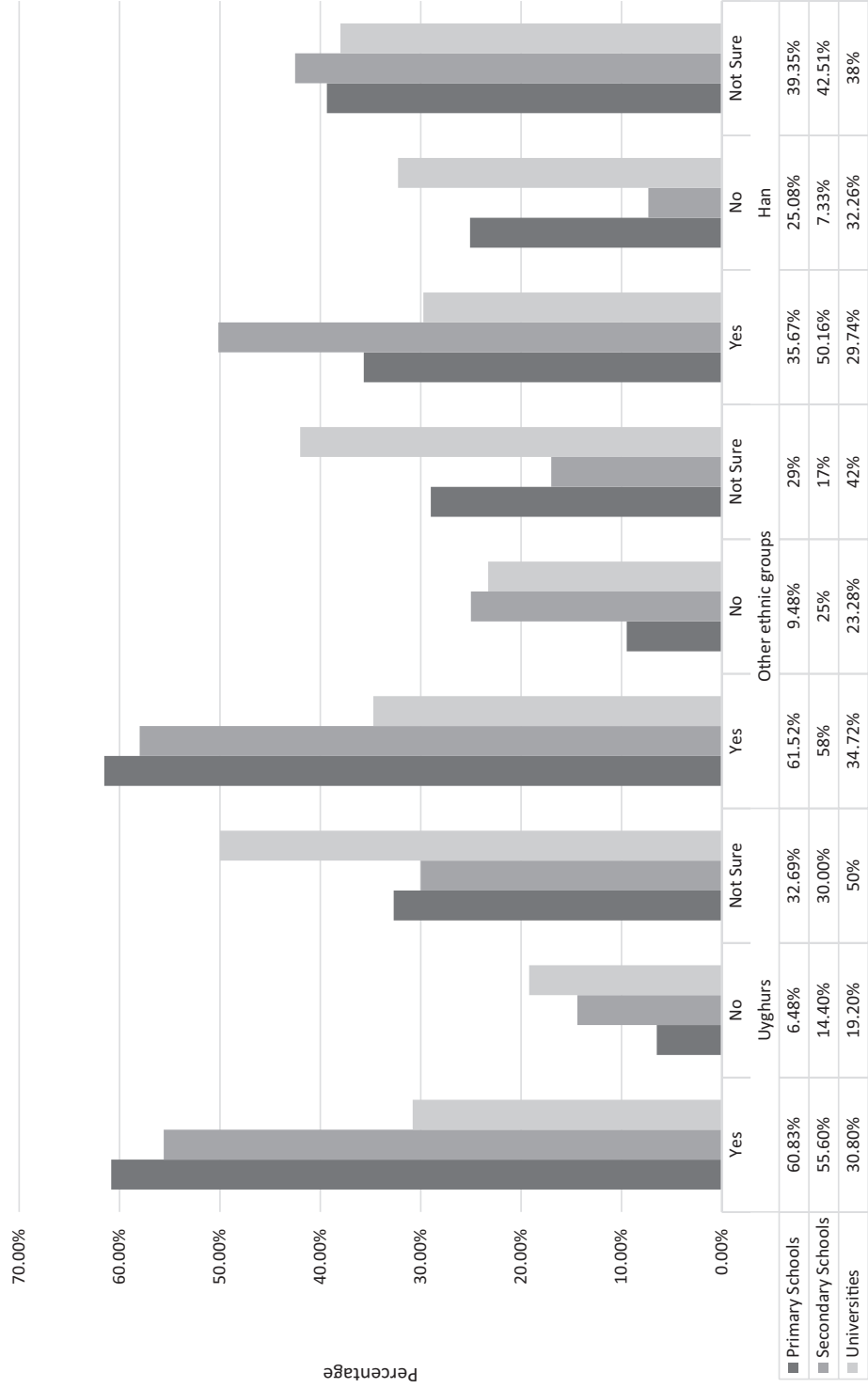


Figure 36.6 Participants' views of the use of translation in the classroom

teach Mandarin as they can provide translation when the students do not understand'. If there are Han teachers only, then it is difficult for Uyghur children to clarify coursework requirements and feedback. At university level, the student participants commented that translation is useful in language classes such as English. Others suggested that it would be beneficial in science classes. However, many of their teachers only speak Mandarin, and this elicited pointed comments including: 'I would like to be taught by an ethnic teacher who can speak both languages'. Some teacher participants in the discussion maintained that using translation in the classroom can help to demonstrate the structure of concepts and explain science subjects clearly at primary and secondary school levels. Importantly, translation can also help individual teachers to save face: 'My Mandarin is not very good; providing Uyghur translation helps me to avoid embarrassment whenever I have difficulties in explaining myself in Mandarin', one teacher said.

Participants' Attitudes Towards the Current Bi/Multilingual Education Provision

Question 5: Are you satisfied with the current bi/multilingual education provision?

Question 6: In your opinion, what are the reasons for implementing bi/multilingual education in Xinjiang?

The survey of attitudes towards bi/multilingual education incorporated three-point Likert Scales as this mode of measurement was proven to be appropriate for minority language research by Baker (1992). This particular survey of attitudes can provide policymakers, especially Xinjiang's ethnic minority administrators and managerial class, with a rationale for adapting the delivery of language education in the classroom and at curriculum level. Figure 36.7 shows that Xibos (75%), Uyghurs (72.08%), and Kazakhs (69.23%), were particularly satisfied with the current language education system. This contrasts noticeably with the satisfaction rate of the Han Chinese which is only 46 percent, with over 50 percent being either not satisfied or not sure. The results indicate the difficulty of identifying a language policy that will satisfy all groups.

Participants could give multiple answers to Question 6. Figure 36.8 shows that the reason for implementing a bi/multilingual education that attracted the highest level of agreement from participants was 'better education and better jobs' (51.69%). Kyrgyz (66.67%) and Uzbek (56.60%) participants were the two ethnic groups who believed this most firmly. The average number of people who believed that implementing a bi/multilingual education was to maintain 'a balanced bilingual policy' is 45.50 percent. Uyghur participants were the strongest supporters of this notion (59.95%), followed by Uzbeks (53.33%). 'Social advancement and a better economy' (33.57%) is the third top-rated reason for bilingual language education; Xibo (45%) and Uyghur participants (44.55%) were the two groups who were most convinced of this.

In the discussion and interview stages, several student participants acknowledged the important opportunities provided by Mandarin: 'I will find a better job if I speak both English and Chinese'; 'most job interviews are in Mandarin'; 'I will start my own (private) trilingual school after graduation in Xinjiang'. The benefits of bi/multilingual education were clearly appreciated by different ethnic groups in Xinjiang. Some teachers recognized that multilingual education reduces language barriers: 'I am able to communicate well with other non-Uyghur colleagues at work'. Within the data displayed in Figure 36.8, the ethnic minority respondents favored a balanced bilingual/trilingual language policy, such as the use of Uyghur/an ethnic language and Mandarin at primary and secondary school levels, and English and Mandarin at university level, rather than a Mandarin-dominated education. However, some participants also emphasized the importance of a balanced language policy in Xinjiang because many schools' language emphasis

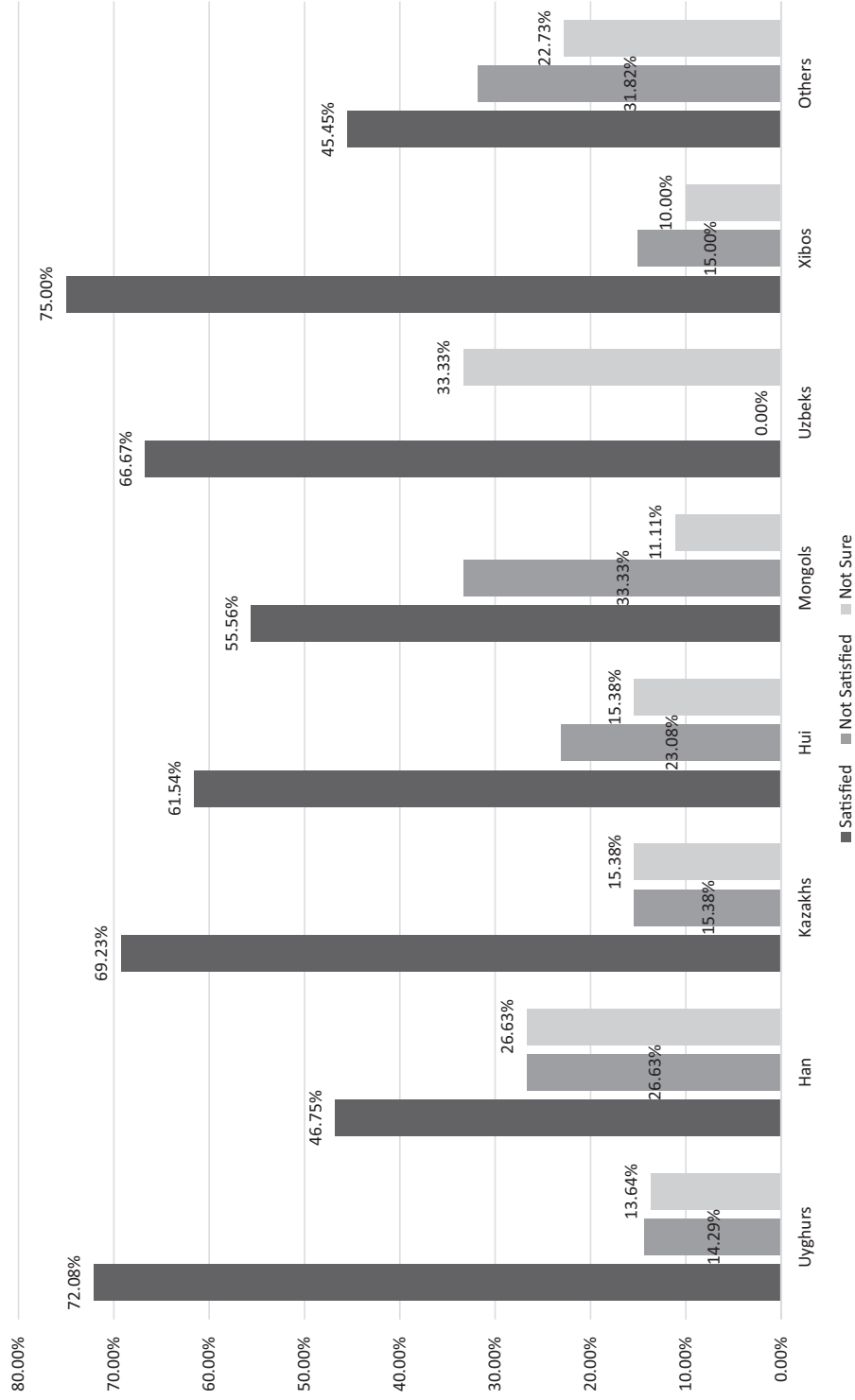


Figure 36.7 Participants' attitude towards the current bi/multilingual education provision

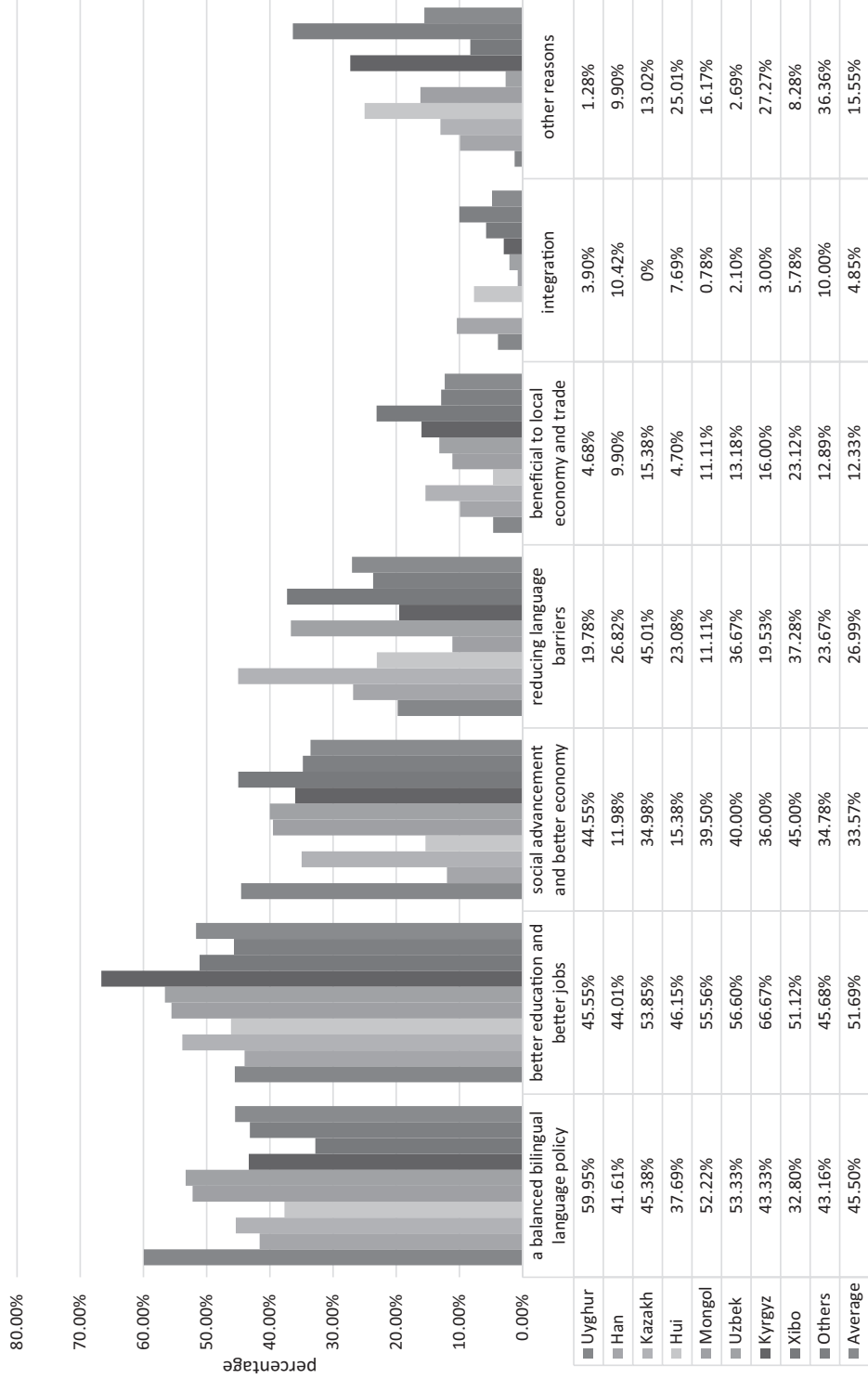


Figure 36.8 Reasons for the implementation of bi/multilingual education

is changing: ‘I am worried that my children won’t speak Uyghur properly’; ‘many *minzu*-schools are being replaced with mixed schools with Han Chinese’. These responses again reflect Gramsci’s awareness that minorities desire to consolidate their ethnic language—as a source of cultural identity—as well as a national language. Certain students and teachers acknowledged the importance of learning further languages in assisting personal development and social advancement, since they had been able to move away from the countryside thanks to opportunities provided by their education. It is unsurprising that the data indicates that all ethnic groups are inspired to learn more than one language, and that their support for bi/multilingual education is attributable to local traditions, international influence, and to a desire for individual advancement and regional economic development.

Bi/Multilingual Education and Social Mobility—Recommendations

This section recommends ways to consolidate and enhance current bi/multilingual education policies in Xinjiang based on the empirical data from the questionnaires and interviews.

Recommendation 1: ‘Harmonious yet Different’—A More Balanced Bi/Multilingual Education

Through the influence of globalization, multilingual education is becoming increasingly popular in areas such as Xinjiang. The willingness of ethnic minority groups to learn more languages for reasons of social mobility suggests that it is unnecessary for the Beijing government to impose any Mandarin-based language policy within Xinjiang’s education system. The data echoes Gramsci’s argument that individuals are motivated to learn languages to gain more linguistic capital and to meet their socioeconomic needs, and that central governments need not intervene to modify the medium of language used in the classroom. ‘Studying a language is not useful exclusively for communicative reasons but also to acquire the skills and self-awareness necessary to “orient oneself within the linguistic environment”’ (Gramsci 1975, cited by Restaneo 2017: 102).

In Xinjiang, the Uyghurs form the largest ethnic minority community. Their clear attachment to the Uyghur language emerged at the interview stage, during which, for example, they expressed concern that their children are losing their ability to speak Uyghur. This should emphasize to policymakers that any alterations to language policy must be sensitive to the region’s linguistic and cultural identities. The participants from different ethnic groups were generally content with the bilingual education programs that they had experienced and hoped that the diversity and accessibility of bilingual education can continue to enable students and/or their parents to make appropriate choices at key stages in their lives. These different programs encompass the complex dynamics of bilingual education which is an ongoing process of regeneration and negotiation. But rather than local and national governments constantly modifying their language policy by reacting to events in the autonomous provinces, a more considered, long-term approach based on the position outlined by Gramsci in his glottopolitical writings, would help to underpin and ‘analyse the policy process in its entirety’ (Feng and Mamtimyn 2009: 685).

Given the participants’ satisfaction with the bilingual education programs that are available, and their desire to maintain a balanced bilingual education, a sensitive approach to multiculturalism in the form of a tolerant multilingual language policy—reflecting the Confucian notion of ‘harmonious yet different’ (和而不同)—would arguably help China to create a society based on equality of opportunity. If there is validity in Postiglione’s assertion that education

in a multi-ethnic society can ‘moderate ethnic conflicts, promote interethnic trust, and ensure national unity’ (2014: 28), then the tolerance and acceptance of linguistic difference, rather than the coercive marginalization of languages and cultures, is vital to societal stability. One major implication of this research is the need for local and national policymakers to strike a balance between respecting ethnic cultures and languages, and diffusing the benefits of Mandarin without exacerbating the social tensions that exist in provinces such as Xinjiang.

Recommendation 2: Free Mandarin Classes and Freedom of Individual Choice

The key to extending the language proficiency of the inhabitants of the Xinjiang region arguably lies in a greater provision of learning resources to be accessed on an individual basis, rather than the forced imposition of a centralized policy. The evidence for this emerged in comments made by the interviewees, some of whom provide (and attend) informal language tutorials in Mandarin which attract traders, shopkeepers, and other professionals who are motivated to improve their fluency. This illustrates the need for accessible language resources to assist an individual’s professional development and requirements. In the light of this, it would be useful for the central and/or local government to provide resources such as free Mandarin-language training classes, similar to the system of free Danish language classes provided in Denmark. This would offer equal opportunities for individuals who wish to learn Mandarin, who desire individual freedom of choice regarding language learning, and who want to accumulate linguistic capital in the context of their specific needs.

Recommendation 3: Equality of Opportunity and Social Mobility

Carefully targeted language policies could provide better educational and economic opportunities for the country’s ethnic minority groups, many of whom—such as Hui, Uyghurs, and Kazakhs—live in regions with the lowest disposable income per capita in China. Many participants link their language learning to a better education, wider business opportunities, and to finding satisfactory employment; this reflects the findings of Guo (2015). The data shows that all ethnic minorities show a clear willingness to learn Mandarin, and this reflects their desire to benefit from the improved prosperity and stability that characterize certain areas in the autonomous regions. The political and economic reforms launched by China’s central government in recent decades have generated these pockets of prosperity, but further initiatives are needed at a local level to increase social mobility and career opportunities to ensure that more of Xinjiang’s entrepreneurial and educational elite remain in the region, rather than migrating to metropolises such as Beijing and Shanghai.

Social mobility can be directly influenced by differences between educational institutions, yet the contribution of education to social mobility is often neglected (Brown, Reay and Vincent 2013). In practical terms, more refinements need to be made to the current forms of bilingual education to provide resources for personal and professional development. The introduction of English into the curriculum is a response to internationalization, given the increasing demand for people with multilingual skills. English was identified by over half the questionnaire respondents as the language they most wished to learn at primary schools, secondary schools, and universities. Despite the relatively positive views of the research participants towards China’s current language policy, there are still indications of inconsistency within minority language policy and also a theory–practice gap. The minority language policy theoretically pledges equality, as does China’s constitution, but equality in practice is more elusive (Zhou 2004; Zhang and Yang 2018).

Conclusion

This chapter has identified the concepts behind the current language policies in China and the consequences of their implementation in the curriculum and classroom at primary school, secondary school, and university level. Significant findings have emerged particularly from the perspective of ethnic minority groups, whose testimonies emphasize the importance of providing bilingual minority language/Mandarin schooling in the early stages of education to facilitate a child's transition from the domestic minority language sphere to the classroom; to consolidate children's command of their minority language for reasons of cultural identity; and to ensure a child's comprehension of key subject-related concepts in class through the provision of bilingual translation where necessary. Regarding secondary and higher education, there was cross-ethnic agreement between the research participants on the importance of the provision of Mandarin and also English to equip young people with appropriate skill sets for the world of work. From the perspective of adult ethnic minority respondents, a clear need emerged for the provision of bespoke Mandarin-language training for Uyghur and other ethnic minority teachers. Mandarin-language courses for entrepreneurs and other professionals are also needed. Education plays a crucial role in promoting social mobility and in enhancing economic and cultural development; however, education can be coercive when it is in the service of the majority. Thus, balanced education policies that reflect the needs of ethnic groups through providing greater equality of opportunity are necessary for harmony, economic progress, and national stability.

Acknowledgment

I wish to thank the British Academy for supporting this research.

Notes

- 1 In addition, China also has 31 autonomous prefectures, 96 autonomous counties, and banners within the Han-dominated provinces.
- 2 As part of this framework, minority ethnic groups benefit from preferential State policies (优惠政策), tangible material benefits, and other assistance in contexts such as university admission quotas, employment, school admissions, the relaxation of the restrictive one child policy, tax benefits, and regional infrastructural support (Sautman 1998; Leibold 2016).
- 3 The interviews and observation processes in Hangzhou, Guangzhou, Urumqi, and Aksu were facilitated by Liqin Cao, Bingbing Leng, Saiying Li, and Yuchen Song respectively.
- 4 www.xjedu.gov.cn/

References

English References

- Baker, C. (1992) *Attitude and Language*. Clevedon: Multilingual Matters.
- Baker, C. (2001) *Foundations of Bilingual Education and Bilingualism*, 3rd edn. Clevedon: Multilingual Matters.
- Brown, P., Reay, D. and Vincent, C. (2013) 'Education and social mobility'. *British Journal of Sociology of Education* 34(5–6): 637–643.
- Carlucci, A. (2014) *Gramsci and Languages: Unification, Diversity, Hegemony*. Leiden: Brill.
- De Swaan, A. (2001) *Words of the World: The Global Language System*. Cambridge: Polity Press.
- Feng, A. and Sunuodula, M. (2009) 'Analysing language education policy for China's minority groups in its entirety'. *Journal of Bilingual Education and Bilingualism* 16(6): 685–704.

- Gladney, D. C. (1994) 'Ethnic identity in China: The new politics of difference'. *China Briefing* 122(2): 171–192.
- Gramsci, A. F. (1971) *Selections From the Prison Notebooks*. edited by Hoare, Q. and Nowell-Smith, G. New York: International.
- Guo, R. (2015) *China's Spatial (Dis)integration: Political Economy of the Interethnic Unrest in Xinjiang*. Waltham, MA: Chandos Publishing (an imprint of Elsevier).
- Harbord, J. (1992) 'The use of the mother tongue in the classroom'. *Journal of English Language Teaching* 46(4): 30–35.
- Leibold, J. (2016) 'Preferential policies for ethnic minorities in China'. In X. Zang (ed.), *Handbook on Ethnic Minorities in China*, 165–188. Cheltenham: Edward Elgar Publishing.
- Lin, J. (1997) 'Policies and practices of bilingual education for the minorities in China'. *Journal of Multilingual and Multicultural Development* 18(3): 193–205.
- May, S. (2017) 'Bilingual education: What the research tells us'. In O. García, A. Lin and S. May (eds.), *Bilingual and Multilingual Education, Encyclopedia of Language and Education*, 82–100. Boston: Springer.
- Ping, W. (2016) 'Assessment on language rights in education domain: Shift-oriented, maintenance-oriented or something else'. *International Journal of Bilingual Education and Bilingualism* 191: 89–107.
- Postiglione, G. (2014) 'Education and cultural diversity in multiethnic China'. In J. Leibold and Y. Chen (eds.), *Minority Education in China: Balancing Unity and Diversity in an Era of Critical Pluralism*, 27–43. Hong Kong: Hong Kong University Press.
- Restaneo, P. (2017) 'Governing the word: Antonio Gramsci and soviet linguistics on language policy'. *Language & History* 60(2): 95–111.
- Sautman, B. (1998) 'Preferential policies for ethnic minorities in China: The case of Xinjiang'. *Nationalism and Ethnic Politics* 4(1–2): 86–118.
- Simayi, Z. (2015) 'A study of the transformation of Xinjiang Higher Education Institutions from the minority-Han Dual-track system to the minority-Han Unification Model'. *Chinese Education & Society* 48: 369–379.
- Tsung, L. and Cruickshank, K. (2011). *Teaching and Learning Chinese in Global Contexts*. London: Continuum.
- Wright, W. E. and Baker, C. (2017) 'Key concepts in bilingual education'. In O. G. A. M. Y. L. Stephen May (ed.), *Encyclopedia of Language and Education: Bilingual and Multilingual Education*, 3rd edn., 65–79. s.l.: Springer.
- Zhang, Q. and Yang, T. (2018) 'Reflections on the medium of instruction for ethnic minorities in Xinjiang: The case of bilingual schools in Urumqi'. *International Journal of Bilingual Education and Bilingualism* 21: 1–22.
- Zhao, Z. (2014) 'The trilingual trap: "Imagined" empowerment among ethnic Mongols in China'. In J. Leibold and Y. Chen (eds.), *Minority Education in China : Balancing Unity and Diversity in an Era of Critical Pluralism*, 239–258. Hong Kong: Hong Kong University Press.
- Zhou, M. (2001) 'The politics of bilingual education and educational levels in ethnic minority communities in China'. *International Journal of Bilingual Education and Bilingualism* 4(2): 125–149.
- Zhou, M. (2004) 'Minority language policy in China—equality in theory and inequality in practice'. In *Language Policy in the People's Republic of China: Theory and Practice Since 1949*, 71–96. New York: Kluwer Academic Publishers.

Chinese References

- Fei, X. 费孝通 (1989) 《费孝通文集》 (Collected Works of Fei Xiaotong), 15 vols. 北京: 群言出版社. Beijing: Qunyan Publishing House.
- National Bureau Statistics of China 中华人民共和国国家统计局. Retrieved May 12, 2019 from <http://data.stats.gov.cn/tablequery.htm?code=AD03>
- Teng, X. and Wang, J. 滕星 and 王军 (2002) 《20世纪中国少数民族与教育》 (20th Century Chinese Ethnic Education Policy). 北京: 民族出版社. Beijing: The Ethnic Publishing House.

Understanding How Chinese Language Education Is Used to Promote Citizenship Education in China and Hong Kong

Angela Choi Fung TAM

Introduction

Chinese language¹ is the official language of the People's Republic of China (PRC) and the Government of the Hong Kong Special Administrative region (HKSAR). Whilst there has been considerable discussion concerning citizenship education,² relatively little attention has been paid to the interconnection between language policies, language ideologies, and citizenship education. This chapter aims to review how policymakers use Chinese language education as a key tool to promote citizenship education, which fosters nation building, nationalism, and national identity in Mainland China and Hong Kong. It is argued that language education and policy has always been linked to the notion of nationality in political consideration. The following section begins with a discourse about language socialization. This is followed by a historical overview of the evolution of curriculum guidelines and textbook contents relating to citizenship education and Chinese language education. The impact of socialization exerted on teachers, students, and school education will also be evaluated. Finally, directions for future studies are suggested.

Socialization of Language Education from the Political Perspective

Language is a principal means for the operation of power (Fairclough 1989). Tollefson (1991) argues that power is 'the ability to achieve one's goals and to control events through intentional action' (p. 9). The mastery of a certain language or language style, therefore, signifies power and status. Meanwhile, power is associated with hegemony. Gramsci (1971) explains that hegemony is power achieved through a combination of consent and coercion. It means the ruling class achieves domination not by force or coercion alone but by creating subjects who willingly submit to being ruled. Gramsci argues that hegemony has kindred links with both power and ideology.

The term *ideology* refers to the values of dominant groups in society which permeate (maybe consensually) the social structure, to the advantage of the already dominant groups, and to the disadvantage of the already disadvantaged (Eagleton 1991). Ideology shapes behavior in that it contributes to the manufacture of consent and leads to assumptions about right and wrong (London 2003). As language is intimately involved in the development of ideological consent,

language ideology is always used as a strategy for maintaining social power and dominance (Fairclough 1989). Ball (1990) suggests that language policy is propped up by an implicit ideology which helps to transmit the authoritarian values of a regime. Language education, meanwhile, is linked to ideology and politics in colonial and postcolonial days (London 2003).

Language constitutes a function for nation building (Chen 2014). According to Friedman (2010), the term *nation* refers to a form of social organization or a community based on a shared language and culture. Speaking a national language is a mark of national identity since language is seen as a unifying force. A national identity is generally distinguished from an ethnic or cultural identity as it is associated with claims for political autonomy or independence. Moreover, a national identity carries with it assumptions of a deeply felt, internalized identification with the nation. Studies indicate that national language is used as the medium of instruction in classrooms to socialize the young generation to pay respect to the nation and develop a form of national identification (e.g. Howard 2009).

In the postcolonial sense, identity is understood not merely as centered and unitary but as decentered and multiple. It is also continually being made and remade. Meanwhile, the notion *hybrid* is a critical term in research relating to postcolonial contexts. One important effect of colonial power is the production of hybridization rather than the sole voice of colonialist authority or the silent repression of native traditions. Loomba (1998) perceives *hybrid* as a strategy premised on colonial purity and aimed at stabilizing the status quo.

Based on the literature review, I excavate how formal schooling inculcated and imposed Chinese language education as a means to strengthen citizenship education in the PRC and HK.

Historical Overview: Citizenship and Chinese Language Education in the PRC

Chen (2014) argues that ‘China has continued using its linguistically dominant culture and language policies in constructing citizenship education’ (p. 150). Both citizenship education and Chinese language education have gone through several reforms since 1949 following major political and social movements. These reforms were carried out through government initiatives to develop and implement new citizenship education and Chinese language curricular guidelines in the form of teaching syllabi, curriculum standards, and textbooks for all schools.

1949–1990 Establishment of Socialist Nation

The period of 1949–1965 was a time of rebuilding the country after World War II. Mainland China became a socialist country under the control of the Communist Party of China (CPC) in 1949. The PRC state positioned itself within the socialist bloc and regarded capitalist countries as opponents, and the CPC dominated the monolithic polity and the nation’s planned economy. Under the rule of Mao Zedong, the first president of PRC, the state promoted educational philosophies that prepared students to live and function in a socialist society under the CPC’s governance.

The main tasks of the government were to unify China and build nationalism among people. Students, from primary to postgraduate levels, were required to take compulsory citizenship education called ‘political and ideological education’ (政治思想教育) (Law 2006). This education served the needs of industrialization and national construction against ‘imperialist encroachment’ (Chen and Reid 2002) as well as replacing past feudal superstitions with historical truth in accordance with the CPC’s outlook (Liu 2004). In the 1950s, special

attention was paid to instilling in young people a sense of community, love of country, patriotism, Marxism-Leninism, and Mao Thought (Wang and Tan 2014). Up to 1965, Chinese socialist citizenship ‘emphasized loyalty rather than initiative, obligations rather than rights, commitments rather than freedom and community rather than individualism’ (Chen and Reid 2002: 62).

The PRC had no systematic curriculum for citizenship education until the late 1970s. Students mainly studied political textbooks such as *Politics, The Chinese Revolution and the Chinese Communist Party* (政治中國革命及中國共產黨), and selections from the Works of Mao (Wang and Tan 2014). Terms and phrases such as ‘the struggle with bourgeoisies’ (與資產階級的鬥爭), ‘free from exploitation’ (免受資產階級剝削), and ‘overthrow Confucius’ (批鬥孔子) were frequently repeated in textbooks (Qi 2006).

China is a country of multiple distinct linguistic groups. While over 90 percent of the population is ethnically Chinese, they speak more than 50 distinct and often mutually unintelligible languages (Chen 2014). Multilingualism hampered the dissemination of government decrees and social and economic development. One initiative was to accelerate the process of language reform (Chen 2014) by promoting an official Modern Standard Chinese language (written and spoken) to enhance literacy as a prerequisite to making China into a modern, industrialized nation-state, to assure internal stability and to allow knowledge transfer in order to strengthen the nation (Adamson and Feng 2009). National language policy and planning were therefore formulated and Putonghua was officially adopted as the common speech for the PRC in 1956. Later, Putonghua was also stipulated as the medium of instruction at school, to promote nationalism in the early years for both Han Chinese and ethnic minorities in order to increase cohesion among different groups (Adamson and Feng 2009).

Chinese language education has achieved the status of a compulsory subject at elementary and secondary levels in the school system. Aligned with the teaching objectives of citizenship education, the Ministry of Education (MOE) promulgated the Primary Chinese Language Curriculum Temporary Standards (Draft) in 1950, and stipulated that the goal of this instruction was to teach patriotic and civic responsibilities in addition to language skills (Ruan and Jin 2012). The curriculum guide of secondary Chinese language in 1956 also had a strong political orientation that aimed to educate students in politics, Marxism, CPC ideology, communist morals and ethics, patriotism and collectivism (Ruan and Zheng 2012) through the content of Chinese language textbooks.

Chinese language textbooks mainly contained articles written by key political leaders or newspaper editorials full of political slogans (Ko and Adamson 2012). The ‘Five Loves’ in political and ideology education: a love of the motherland and its people, a love of manual labor, a love of science, and a love of socialism (愛祖國、愛人民、愛勞動、愛科學、愛社會主義) were instilled into pupils. To this end, textbooks contained positive images of CPC leaders such as Mao Zedong and Zhou Enlai (周恩來). Young people were educated to be proud of their country and willing to fight any rivals. They were also taught about self-sacrifice, serving the needs of the people and supporting the revolutionary goals of the proletariat and Marxism-Leninism (Liu 2004).

Textbooks of Chinese literature were also vehicles to (1) criticize feudalism, capitalism, and militarism; (2) disseminate Marxism and Leninism, and (3) propagate ‘anti-Kuomintang Thought’ (the Chinese Nationalist Party, the rivals of the CPC) with the aim of consolidating the rule of the CPC and the reign of Mao Zedong (Liu 2004). The ideologies incorporated in these textbooks promoted the belief that the CPC was the solution for social ills, a ‘magic bullet’ that would ensure political and economic equality.

Deng Xiaoping came to power in the late 1970s and took China down a road of socialist modernization. Communist China entered a stage of de-politicalization in which the Chinese Government de-emphasized the role of politics in favor of economics (Fairbrother 2006). Textbooks for political classes continued to teach the thoughts of Mao and Marxism—Leninism and conditioned students to pay high respect to CPC leaders (Qi 2006), for example, the subject of ‘Ideology and Moral Character’ (思想品德) in primary schools and ‘ideology and political thought’ (思想政治) in secondary schools (Kan 2015).

The Chinese language teaching syllabus for primary and secondary schools in 1978 continued to emphasize the Five Loves (P.F.Tung 1995). Textbooks reiterated the respectable image of CPC leaders such as Zhou Enlai, Mao Zedong, and Deng Xiaoping. The same leaders, who were venerated for their sense of self-sacrifice and patriotism, appear in different chapters of elementary textbooks (P.F.Tung 1995).

1990s-Present Patriotism

The rapid transition in the late 1980s from a socialist to a capitalist economy generated a national identity crisis and the CPC saw a decrease in public support (Law 2006). Many university students questioned and challenged the legitimacy of the one-party system, which in turn led to the Tiananmen Square protests in 1989. This incident exposed the weakness of citizenship education, as it had failed to indoctrinate all students and citizens to be obedient to the state. The CPC immediately launched ideological campaigns to reeducate university students. Compulsory citizenship education from primary school through to university and college was mandated by law (Law 2006). Meanwhile, the curriculum and textbooks of citizenship education were revised. In the revised textbooks for senior secondary schools,³ most changes were political and related to the PRC’s socialist market economy. The prescribed values included the Five Loves for the PRC’s socialist modernization and the ‘five—isms’ (patriotism, collectivism, internationalism, communism, and dialectical and historical materialism) (愛國主義、集體主義、國際主義、共產主義、辯證及歷史唯物主義) (Law 2006). Further revision of citizenship curriculum and textbooks took place in the 2000s and similar findings are acknowledged by Li, Zhong and Zhang (2004). Citizenship education is still heavily politically orientated, which has been sustained in recent years under the CPC leadership of Xi Jinping after 2013 (Chong 2017).

The Chinese language reform in 2001 also adhered to the principle of citizenship education. The secondary level Chinese language Curriculum Guide highlighted aims such as imbuing students with patriotism and collectivism, praising traditional Chinese culture, emphasizing the importance of the national law and social righteousness while also fostering a sense of social responsibility. Attention was also paid to cultivating the Five Loves among students. Ho (2008) indicates the main themes of Chinese language textbooks of Grades 7 to 9 published by the People’s Education Press in the twenty-first century are patriotism, revolution, and Chinese culture; while nationalism, the coexistence of ethnic groups, and ethnic culture were also stressed. Due to the CPC’s tight political control and the government’s deep involvement in Chinese language education, centralized control, and a non-democratic education management style remain the norm in the PRC (Liu 2004).

The hegemonic ideologies of patriotism, nationalism, and Marxism-Leninism are commonly found in policy documents and textbooks of citizenship and Chinese language education from 1949 to the 1980s. By the 1990s, the focus was clearly on patriotism as the state’s ideology. The modification of both citizenship and Chinese language curricula is a sociopolitical exercise which entails communism, socialism, loyalty to one party, and the leader cult in communist domination.

Citizenship and Chinese Language Education in Hong Kong

Hong Kong has a unique relationship with the PRC since it is part of Mainland China. From 1842 to 1997 Hong Kong was under British rule, hence its political, economic, social, and educational systems differed greatly from the PRC. The policy of Chinese language education in Hong Kong has undergone a transformation since the political transition. The changes overwhelmingly concur with the objectives stipulated in the curriculum guideline of citizenship education.

Colonial Period: De-Politicalization to Maintain Stability

Until 1985, the aims and objectives of colonial Hong Kong citizenship education were mainly to create a nationally and culturally neutral citizenship. The government introduced a type of ahistorical and apolitical education to consolidate its achieved status (Choi 2007). The British government deliberately incorporated indigenous cultures and traditional Chinese culture into education to prevent Chinese inhabitants from identifying with the two main Chinese political entities (the PRC or the Republic of China) (Lau, Tse and Leung 2016). Permission to use Cantonese⁴ as the major medium of instruction and the emphasis on teaching Chinese culture created an apolitical type of nationalism. Eventually, people's primary concerns and their local political collective identities were de-localized in school curricula (Kan 2015). As the colonial government was very cautious about the issue of nationalism and Chinese identity, citizenship education put almost zero emphasis on nationalistic content, and the colonial government was able to maintain socioeconomic stability and prosperity for the whole society (Choi 2007).

Nevertheless, after the signing of the Sino-British Joint Declaration in 1985, Hong Kong's citizenship education gradually shifted its ahistorical and apolitical focus to address a sense of belonging to China. In addition to the universal values of democracy and globalization, the focus of citizenship education was on the nation-state's political sovereignty and legitimacy promulgated in the Guidelines of Civic Education in 1996 (Lau, Tse and Leung 2016).

Chinese language education in Hong Kong has long been taught in Cantonese, the indigenous language. In line with the de-politicalization of citizenship education, Hong Kong's Chinese language Curriculum Guide from the 1970s to the 1980s emphasized individual development, critical thinking, and imagination. The fundamental principle of Chinese language learning is to develop students' four language skills (i.e. reading, writing, listening, and speaking). Chinese culture was highlighted, but not nationalism nor Chinese consciousness. It aimed to cultivate a positive attitude towards life, promote moral education and good habits in daily life, enhance the ability to differentiate between right and wrong, and arouse interest in learning (Leung and Lee 2003).

In the 1990s, both the primary and secondary Chinese language Curriculum Guides focused on cultivating students' moral education, enriching their learning experiences, facilitating an understanding of Chinese culture, and fostering scientific reasoning (Wong and Fok 2002). The aim of Chinese language education was to extend students' sociocultural knowledge, facilitate Chinese cultural understanding and strengthen the sense of responsibility towards society (Wong and Fok 2002). Moreover, Chinese language classes emphasized humanistic qualities to cultivate students' aesthetic appreciation while inspiring their creativity and imagination.

Approved Chinese language textbooks were published by local private publishers after scrutiny by the Curriculum Development Institute. The contents covered a variety of aspects such as tales of the world and traditional Chinese legends and stories. The texts selected covered diverse themes addressing the needs and interests of learners to foster their cognitive development,

which is different to those used in Mainland China (P. F. Tung 1995). Little emphasis was placed on nationalism, Chinese identity or loyalty to the homeland. Similarly, Au (1994) suggests that nation-oriented values played a less important role in the junior secondary Chinese Language Curriculum. Although the main themes of Confucian ethics dominated Chinese language textbooks, filial piety and devotion to parents, personal integrity, and interpersonal relationships were the main focus.

1997- Present: Reunion With the PRC Under 'One Country, Two Systems'⁵ Formula

Since the handover in 1997, the most significant change appears to be the increased emphasis on national identity and decolonization. The first Chief Executive of the HKSAR government, Tung Chee-hwa, highlighted national education and patriotism to develop a national identity and called on people to work together to foster patriotic Chinese citizens (C.H. Tung 1999). A new set of curricular guidelines was created as part of a series of educational reforms. The aim of these changes was to instill in the young generation virtues associated with traditional Chinese culture and values, and maintain a strong attachment to ethno-cultural nationalism (Lau et al. 2016).

Although citizenship education has continued to follow a cross-curricular approach, it emphasizes the idea of unification, national identity, and of Hong Kong being part of the motherland of China. These have been embedded in general studies programs in primary schools and Liberal Studies (通識) and integrated humanities in junior secondary schools. Moreover, Liberal Studies is a core mandatory subject in senior secondary schools and the topic Modern China is one of the six modules.⁶ This subject is important because since 2012 all candidates who sit for the Hong Kong Diploma of Secondary Education examination⁷ (HKDSE) are required to take it.

The Chinese language curriculum also underwent major changes due to the political transition. The aim of these changes was to strengthen the ties between Hong Kong and the PRC, and increase the sense of belonging of the Hong Kong people. One change was that Chinese language teaching was strongly linked to further study such as matriculation and university admission requirements. Chinese Language and Culture became a core subject in Grade 12–13 in 1992 and ended in 2012. One teaching objective clearly spelt out in the Curriculum Guide (Curriculum Development Council 1991) was ‘to enhance students’ knowledge in Chinese culture, cultivate their moral values and positive attitudes’ (p. 3). The content in the Chinese curriculum and textbooks was changed in 1992 to emphasize Chinese traditional culture and values, Confucian thought and family-oriented customs. This content aimed to instill in teenagers an appreciation for filial piety, fraternity, loyalty, and allegiance (孝、悌、忠、信). An increase in topics about Chinese culture was apparently a response to a change of national identity and sovereignty in relation to the PRC.

National identity elements have also been included in the Chinese language education curriculum at elementary and secondary levels. One objective highlighted in the new Curriculum Guides (Curriculum Development Council 2017) was to nurture students to ‘understand Chinese culture, and cultivate a sense of belonging to the Chinese nation’ (p. 1). The Confucian tradition, which reinforces the development of national cohesion, has continued to be an integral part of Chinese language education through the teaching of moral values, racial harmony, and mutual respect. At the end of secondary school education, candidates must obtain a minimum requirement in the HKDSE before they are admitted to university.

In addition to the reform of Chinese language curriculum, using Putonghua as the medium of instruction to teach Chinese has also been set as a long-term goal. Putonghua, the national language, is a symbol to reintegrate Hong Kong with the motherland and strengthen a person's sense of identification with the whole nation. In sum, the relative emphasis of citizenship and Chinese language in colonial Hong Kong was de-politicalization so as to maintain social stability. Since the reunion of Hong Kong with the PRC, more focus has been placed on patriotism and nationalism.

Standardization of Education

The above historical overview indicates that Chinese language education, which is characterized as a kind of top-down standardization, has achieved the power and status of a core subject⁸ taught in the school system. The prominence given to Chinese language in schools has been accomplished through several intervention strategies. One is the supervision of school education by government bodies. For example, the State Education Commission in the PRC is responsible for formulating major education policies, designing overall strategies for promoting the course of education, coordinating educational undertakings supervised by various ministries (designing prescribed curriculum syllabus, guidelines, and content, establishing standards for evaluation and overseeing the development of all teaching materials), and directing and guiding work related to the reform of the education system. These are conducive to subsequent implementation at school level, which in turn shapes the knowledge, attitudes, and behavior of students towards the state under one-party domination of the CPC. Power is therefore exercised through a net-like organization (London 2003). Similarly, the Curriculum Guides were compiled by Hong Kong Education Bureau and Curriculum Development Council. In this sense, Chinese language as a discipline is 'not simply . . . a way of organizing systems of knowledge but also . . . a way of organizing people' (Smith 1999: 23).

The control of textbook contents is another intervention strategy shaping students' mind-sets. The People's Education Press is the national publisher in the PRC while the Hong Kong Curriculum Development Institute scrutinizes all Chinese language textbooks before granting printing approval to private publishers.

Furthermore, the political ideology of the PRC dominant group imperceptibly permeates through the tight control of academic assessments and examinations with the aim of indoctrination (Eagleton 1991). School curricula throughout the PRC require all pupils, including ethnic minorities, to learn standard Chinese not just because it is the national language, but also because it is a prerequisite for university study. Similarly, Chinese language education in post-colonial Hong Kong has become a core discipline and a prerequisite in public examinations for university admission.

Lastly, previous studies have also confirmed that the use of Putonghua, the national language as a medium of instruction in schools aims to socialize students to pay respect to the nation and develop students' national identity (Howard 2009).

According to Baldauf Jr. (2004), language is a kind of linguistic capital to access political and social power. This is shown in the cases of the PRC and Hong Kong. The review above indicates that Chinese language education is more conducive to government control with the aim of conveying approved attitudes and behaviors in students. The transmission of school education is therefore not a value-free process as language policies always reflect both the distribution of power and the political ideology of the dominant authorities (London 2003).

Impact of Socialization in Hong Kong Education

Although the Chinese government of the PRC has continually reinforced political socialization through Chinese language education in postcolonial Hong Kong, studies demonstrate that teachers in the PRC and postcolonial Hong Kong conceptualize citizenship differently. According to Lee (2005), teachers in Hangzhou and Guangzhou of the PRC emphasized patriotism and nationality respectively as an important feature of citizenship in addition to commitment to society, obedience (to law), and moral responsibility. Teachers also regarded themselves as playing a dual role of providing both guidance and inculcation to students. However, most Hong Kong teachers emphasized cultural citizenship but avoided issues of national citizenship (Lee 2005) since they agreed only on historic-cultural identification but not on socioeconomic and national-political identification with China (Fong 2001). These teachers taught students basic facts about China and nurtured students to be critical and independent thinkers towards patriotism and nationalism (Fong 2001).

Fairbrother (2003) found that the largest difference between Hong Kong and Mainland students was their perception of the influence of schooling on attitudes toward the nation, followed by the media, the family, and university. Mainland students indicated that courses in the broad patriotic education curriculum stressed the importance of patriotism in society, conveyed patriotic feeling, created an impression of Chinese power, imparted positive images of the nation, and instilled a sense of pride in the nation. They were considerably more patriotic and nationalistic. However, Hong Kong students held the view that secondary schooling exerted less influence on their attitudes toward China.

The different perceptions regarding the matter of nationalism and national identity may be attributed to the socialist system in China and the capitalist system in Hong Kong. Hong Kong is a pluralist society: the HKSAR government tries not to prescribe any citizenship education action towards schools, but instead expects schools to follow the official line to promote patriotic and nationalistic education (Lai and Byram 2012). To investigate the implementation of citizenship education in Hong Kong secondary schools, Lai and Byram (2012) conducted a case study in Long River School (pseudonym) to illustrate how a school-based citizenship education can be both democratic and national in the school context. In contrast to students in the PRC, who are expected to identify with only one territory—love of the socialist mother country—Long River School defines national identity more broadly. Although patriotism in the PRC is equated with love for the socialist system and the Communist Party, Long River School's 'patriotic' program was basically humanistic and can be described as cultural patriotism. While the notion of democracy has never appeared in curricular guidelines in the PRC, democracy is taught in Hong Kong as a universal value which highlights human rights, freedom, and liberty. Additionally, Chinese language education in Hong Kong is acknowledged as an important source of citizenship education as it is run in accordance with the principles of citizenship programs to develop students' social awareness and critical thinking. Long River School is characterized as a hybrid, which aims to preserve the status quo (Loomba 1998) under the formula of 'one country, two systems'.

The above studies reveal a wide gap between the PRC and Hong Kong regarding socialization in education. Fairbrother (2003) identifies traits of resistance among Hong Kong students against hegemonic efforts to influence their attitudes toward the nation. The introduction of a state-centered moral and national education (MNE) as a mandatory subject in 2012 is illustrative. The National Education Services Centre (2012), supported by government funds, published a China Model National Condition Teaching Manual and distributed it to primary and secondary schools. The content was found to be biased in favor of the CPC. For example, the

CPC was portrayed as an ‘advanced, selfless and united ruling group’ (進步、無私與團結的執政集團) whereas the Democratic and Republican parties of the United States were depicted as being engaged in a ‘fierce inter-party rivalry [which] makes the people suffer’ (美國民主、共和兩黨惡鬥，人民當災) (National Education Services Centre 2012: 10). This led to a major social movement including demonstrations, class boycotts, and the besieging of government offices over the ‘brainwashing’ of national education (“Class boycotts” 2012). Students openly criticized the national and the HKSAR governments. Eventually, the then Chief Executive, Leung Chun Ying, announced that schools would no longer be required to teach the subject. The tensions and struggles over national education policy and practices reveal the impulse toward more educational liberalism and a desire for more diverse interpretations of Chinese identity (Lau et al. 2016).

After the protest over national education, Chong (2017) evaluated the perceptions and practices of 10 Hong Kong secondary schoolteachers in 10 different schools⁹ concerning national education and national identity. All the interviewees held curriculum leadership positions in civic education/national education or related areas in their respective schools and their decisions had a significant impact on the implementation process. The in-depth interviews, field observations, and field documents (e.g. curricular plans, teaching plans, and minutes of meetings) revealed that their practices matched their perceptions.

Chong (2017) identified two orientations of perceptions among teachers regarding national education. One orientation was to cultivate students’ analytical mind with active and critical thinking learning outcomes. Teachers who supported this orientation rejected national education as unreflective patriotism. The critical-thinking-oriented national education aimed to cultivate future critical patriots, active and productive members of Hong Kong. These teachers adopted a critical thinking approach, which helped students to construct knowledge and build conceptual understanding through dialectic and collaborative inquiry.

Conversely, the other orientation aimed to develop students’ patriotism towards their motherland with passive and obedient outcomes. The teachers held non-critical thinking orientation adopted a patriotic and affective approach, teaching ‘obedient’ and ‘passive’ young citizens rather than ‘active’ citizens. They transmitted knowledge and facts of China such as Chinese culture and political system to students without developing their critical thinking. The findings demonstrated that there were significant contrasting models and approaches across cases when teachers taught national education.

Moreover, the concept of national identity was found to be varied and multilayered, despite the government’s calling for schools to cultivate a single-layered Chinese national identity (Chong 2017). Some teachers held a view of an increasing trend towards Chinese identity, while others still held to a local Hong Kong identity (i.e. ‘Hongkongese’) which emphasized the uniqueness of ethnic Chinese living in Hong Kong in contrast to their counterparts in China. There were also diversified views regarding the meaning of national identity. Some teachers saw national identity solely in terms of ethnicity, while others saw it in terms of a shared sense of values (e.g. belonging, identification, culture, and customs). Teachers’ perceptions of national identity were also linked to their teaching of national education.

Since teachers hold diverse views of national education and national identity, the national education policy has met strong opposition from the school sector in Hong Kong. The conflicts between the pro-Beijing government and democratic groups have continuously intensified given the rise of localism, self-determination, and confederation ideas amongst Hong Kong youths such as the Umbrella Revolution and the Occupy Movement in 2014 (Chong 2017). The Umbrella Revolution¹⁰ was a series of sit-in street protests against the decision of the Standing Committee of the National People’s Congress that future candidates for Chief Executive

and for Legislative Councillors of Hong Kong must be pre-screened by the CPC. The Occupy Movement¹¹ called on protesters to block roads and paralyze Hong Kong's financial districts to urge the Beijing government to implement universal suffrage for the 2017 Chief Executive election and the 2020 Legislative Council elections. Key districts in Admiralty, Causeway Bay, and Mong Kok were occupied and remained closed to traffic for 77 days. The 'Occupy Central with Love and Peace' movement was initially unexpectedly violent: conflicts between police and protesters resulted in 87 tear gas canisters being fired and the arrest of 89 protesters.

The hegemony of Putonghua has also caught the attention of many Hong Kong people since the HKSAR government has been perceived as promoting Putonghua as a prestigious language, thus suppressing the indigenous language of Cantonese. In colonial Hong Kong, English was considered more important than Chinese as English functioned as a gatekeeper to positions of power and prestige (Pennycook 1995). To abolish the unequal social and political relationships sustained by the use of English in social situations, the HKSAR government launched a mandatory language policy in 1998 with the aim of reducing the number of English medium-of-instruction schools¹² and convincing the public that mother tongue education is best for learning subject content. Subsequently, the Curriculum Development Council (1999) promulgated using Putonghua to teach Chinese language as a long-term goal. However, a survey revealed that most school principals reported that English is the most important medium of instruction at schools, followed by Cantonese and then Putonghua (Zhang 2013). Although some teachers supported Putonghua instruction (PI), they questioned its pedagogical effectiveness (Li 2017). Generally, Hong Kong people feel that their culture and language are increasingly threatened in light of Mainland China—Hong Kong conflicts, which have been widely covered in the media. Shao (2016) examined 138 news articles about PI published in the Hong Kong print media during a one-year period. The findings reveal that the majority of the local print media functioned discursively to keep the policy window for PI closed by framing PI as a political, pedagogical, and cultural means of transmitting the ideology that Putonghua is the more prestigious language.

Sensing a threat to their democratic development, local autonomy and language use,¹³ people in Hong Kong have expressed their discontent and distrust of the HKSAR government over such top-down initiatives as the introduction of state-centred moral and national education as a mandatory subject in 2012, the standardization of Chinese language education, and using Putonghua to teach Chinese language as a long-term goal to replace Cantonese instruction. Such top-down initiatives also call into question the PRC's pledge of allowing the way of life of Hong Kong people to remain unchanged for 50 years.

Conclusion

This chapter hopes to demonstrate that 'language and citizenship have always been linked to notions of nationality in political thought' and 'have been embedded in the national linguistic and educational policies' (Chen 2014: 144). It has provided an overview of policies on Chinese language and citizenship education in the PRC and Hong Kong, and the role Chinese language plays in skewing citizenship education towards state interests. The literature review alluded to the differences between the socialist system in the PRC and the capitalist system in Hong Kong as they attempt to assimilate their educational programs. As teachers and students in Hong Kong and the PRC have different interpretations of patriotism, national education, national identity, and nationalism, the divergences lead to different views and practices. The PRC follows the socialist model, which tends to teach students to be patriots with a distinguished sense of social responsibility for 'socialist modernization construction' and national

revival (Tse 2007). Since the colonial period (1842–1997), Hong Kong has adhered to the Western democratic model, which cultivates a local/ethnic identity. In this regard, it is not unusual to observe Hong Kong citizens' strong resistance to socialistic patriotism and indoctrination. The establishment of the Hong Kong National Party (香港民族黨)(HKNP, a localist political party) in 2016 advocating for Hong Kong independence shows the continuous opposition to brainwashing initiatives and unreflective patriotism. However, on 24 September 2018, the HKSAR government officially declared the HKNP to be an illegal society and banned its operation on national security grounds under the Societies Ordinance. Despite the HKSAR government's efforts to roll out top-down initiatives, the conflict between localist groups and the government still exists.

In light of the review, future studies should examine both citizenship education and Chinese language education at different levels (elementary, secondary, and higher education) and in multi-case studies of different school settings. Comparative studies of Chinese societies (for example Mainland China, Hong Kong, Macau, and Taiwan) may also generate different patterns (aims, design, implementation, and learning outcomes) of citizenship education and Chinese language education. Perceptions of teachers, students, and parents, 22 years after the sovereignty change should also be included. Longitudinal studies about the impact of Chinese language and citizenship education on students, especially their attitudes toward national identity and sense of belonging or loyalty to the state are also interesting topics. All these may enrich the discourse on the connection between Chinese language education and citizenship education and help to reveal any underlying political intentions.

Notes

- 1 Chinese language here refers to Putonghua (spoken form) and Modern Standard Chinese (written form) officially approved by the PRC.
- 2 Citizenship education is a contested concept intertwined with different ideologies. It is often used interchangeably with other terms such as political education, moral education, civic education, and nationalistic education (Tse 2001).
- 3 State Editorial Commission for the Textbooks of Ideology and Moral Character in Primary Schools and Ideology and Politics in Secondary Schools, 1998.
- 4 Cantonese is a language commonly used in Guangdong province, Hong Kong, and Macau. Cantonese is different from Putonghua in terms of pronunciation, vocabulary, and grammar.
- 5 This was suggested by Deng Xiaoping, a paramount leader of PRC, to aim for the reunification of Hong Kong and Macau with Mainland China. The current social, economic, and legal systems of Hong Kong and Macau remain unchanged while Mainland China continues its socialist system with Chinese characteristics.
- 6 Module 1: Personal Development and Interpersonal Relationships; Module 2: Hong Kong Today; Module 3: Modern China; Module 4: Globalization; Module 5: Public Health; Module 6: Energy Technology and the Environment.
- 7 This is a public examination held at the end of secondary schooling. It commenced in 2012, replacing the former Hong Kong Certificate Education Examination (for Grade 11 graduates) and Advanced-level Examination (for Grade 13 graduates) under the British system.
- 8 During the colonial era, English was the sole language required for the admission of higher education while Chinese language was not a compulsory subject at Grade 12–13 in Hong Kong until 1992.
- 9 The schools have different sponsoring backgrounds, subsidy types, religions, and geographical regions. Two are 'pro-Beijing government' schools, three are religious schools, two are government schools, and three are education corporation schools.
- 10 2014 Hong Kong protests. https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/2014_Hong_Kong_protests
- 11 Occupy Central with love and peace. https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Occupy_Central_with_Love_and_Peace
- 12 Before 1998, over 90 percent of secondary schools claimed to use English as the medium of instruction.

- 13 Cantonese, the lingua franca of most Hong Kong people, has its historical and cultural values that nobody is willing to abolish.

References

English References

- Adamson, B. and Feng, A. (2009) 'A comparison of trilingual education policies for ethnic minorities in China'. *Compare* 39(3): 321–333.
- Au, Y. Y. M. (1994) *Value Orientations in the Junior Secondary (S1–S3) Chinese Language Curriculum in Hong Kong*. Unpublished Master of Education dissertation. The University of Hong Kong.
- Baldauf Jr, R. (2004) 'Issues of prestige and image in language-in-education planning in Australia'. *Current Issues in Language Planning* 5(4): 376–388.
- Ball, S. (1990) *Politics and Policy Making in Education: Explorations in Policy Sociology*. London and New York: Routledge.
- Chen, Y. (2014) 'Becoming global citizens through bilingualism: Chinese citizenship education in a globalising world'. In K. J. Kennedy, G. P. Fairbrother and Z. Zhao (eds.), *Citizenship education in China: Preparing citizens for the "Chinese century"*, 144–156. New York: Routledge, Taylor & Francis Group.
- Chen, Y. and Reid, A. (2002) 'Citizenship education in Chinese schools: Retrospect and prospect'. *Research in Education* 67: 58–69.
- Choi, K. H. (2007) *Comparing on the Transformation on School Education and Citizenship Development in Hong Kong and Communist China*. Unpublished Bachelor of Social Science dissertation. Department of Asian and International Studies, The City University of Hong Kong.
- Chong, K. M. E. (2017) *From Citizenship Education to National Education: Perceptions of National Identity and National Education of Hong Kong's Secondary School Teachers*. London: Routledge.
- 'Class boycotts threatened in fight against national education' (2012) *South China Morning Post* September 4. Retrieved on August 16, 2017 from www.scmp.com/news/hong-kong/article/1028988/class-boycotts-threatened-fight-against-national-education
- Curriculum Development Council. (1999) *A Holistic Review of the Hong Kong School. Curriculum Proposed Reforms*. Hong Kong: Printing Department.
- Eagleton, T. (1991) *An Introduction to Ideology*. London and New York: Verso.
- Fairbrother, G. P. (2003) *Toward Critical Patriotism: Student Resistance to Political Education in Hong Kong and China*. Hong Kong: Hong Kong University Press.
- Fairbrother, G. P. (2006) 'Between Britain and China: Hong Kong's citizenship education policy paradigm'. *Journal of Comparative Policy Analysis* 8(1): 25–42.
- Fairclough, N. (1989) *Language and Power*. London and New York: Longman.
- Fong, Y. C. (2001) 'An ambivalent pursuit of national identity: Education in the post-colonial setting of Hong Kong, China'. In Korean Educational Development Institute (ed.), *Redefining the Democratic Citizenship Education in the Globalised Society: The Proceedings of the International Forum of Democratic Citizenship Education in the Asia-Pacific Region*, 225–244. Seoul: Korean Educational Development Institute.
- Friedman, D. A. (2010) 'Becoming national: Classroom language socialization and political identities in the age of globalization'. *Annual Review of Applied Linguistics* 30, 193–210.
- Gramsci, A. (1971) *Selections from the Prison Notebooks*. Ed. and Trans. Q. Hoare and G. N. Smith. London: Lawrence Wishart.
- Howard, K. M. (2009) 'When meeting Khun teacher, each time we should pay respect: Standardizing respect in a northern Thai classroom'. *Linguistics and Education* 20: 254–272.
- Kan, W. (2015) *Citizenship Education in China and the UK: Key Features and Contemporary Changes*. Retrieved on August 15, 2017. file:///C:/Users/User/Downloads/Citizenship_Education_in_China_and_the_UK_Key_feat%20(1).pdf

- Ko, P.Y. and Adamson, B. (2012) 'Chinese Language pedagogy and human dignity: The special rank teacher in the aftermath of the Cultural Revolution'. In C. Leung and J. Ruan (eds.), *Perspectives on teaching and learning Chinese literacy in China. Multilingual Education, Vol 2*, 61–80. Springer, Dordrecht.
- Lai, P. S. and Byram, M. (2012) *Re-Shaping Education for Citizenship: Democratic National Citizenship in Hong Kong*. Newcastle: Cambridge Scholars Publishing.
- Lau, T. C. S., Tse, T. K. C. and Leung, Y. W. (2016) 'Dynamics of Chinese nationalistic education in Hong Kong from 1945 to 2012'. *Oxford Review of Education* 42(6): 677–691.
- Law, W. W. (2006) 'Citizenship, citizenship education, and the state in China in a global age'. *Cambridge Journal of Education* 36(4): 597–628.
- Lee, W. O. (2005) 'Teachers' perception of citizenship in China'. In W. O. Lee and Jeffrey T. Fouts (eds.), *Education for Social Citizenship: Perceptions of Teachers in the USA, Australia, England, Russia and China, Hong Kong*, 209–248. Hong Kong: Hong Kong University Press.
- Li, C. S. (2017) 'Political conspiracy or decoy marketing?: Experienced Chinese teachers' perceptions of using Putonghua as a medium of instruction in Hong Kong. In D. C. S. Li (eds.), *Multilingual Hong Kong: Languages, Literacies and Identities*, 161–178. Berlin: Springer International Publishing.
- Li, P., Zhong, M., Lin, B. and Zhang, H. (2004) 'Deyu as moral education in modern China: Ideological functions and transformations'. *Journal of Moral Education* 33(4): 460–464.
- London, N. A. (2003) 'Ideology and politics in English-language education in Trinidad and Tobago: The colonial experience and a postcolonial critique'. *Comparative Education Review* 47(3): 287–320.
- Loomba, A. (1998) *Colonialism/Postcolonialism*. London: Routledge.
- Pennycook, A. (1995) 'English in the world/the world in English'. In J. W. Tollefson (ed.), *Power and Inequality in Language Education*, 34–58. Cambridge and New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Ruan, J. and Jin, L. (2012) 'Primary school Chinese language and literacy curriculum reforms in China after 1949'. In C. Leung and J. Ruan (eds.), *Perspectives on Teaching and Learning Chinese Literacy in China. Multilingual Education, Vol 2*, 129–140. Dordrecht: Springer.
- Ruan, J. and Zheng, G. (2012) 'High school Chinese language and literacy curriculum reforms. In C. Leung and J. Ruan (eds.), *Perspectives on Teaching and Learning Chinese Literacy in China. Multilingual Education, Vol 2*, 141–156. Dordrecht: Springer.
- Shao, Q. (2016) 'Keeping the policy window closed: Framing Putonghua as a medium of instruction in Hong Kong'. *Asia-Pacific Education Researcher* 25(5–6): 771–779.
- Smith, L. T. (1999) *Decolonizing Methodologies: Research and Indigenous Peoples*. New York: Zed Books.
- Tollefson, J. W. (1991) *Planning Language, Planning Inequality: Language policy in the Community*. London: Longman.
- Tse, K. C. (2001) 'Society and citizenship education in transition: The case of Macau. *International Journal of Educational Development* 21: 305–314.
- Tse, T. K. C. (2007) 'Whose Citizenship Education? Hong Kong from a spatial and cultural politics perspective'. *Discourse: Studies in the Cultural Politics of Education* 28(2): 159–177.
- Tung, C. H. (1999) *The 1999 Policy Address: Quality People, Quality Home: Positioning Hong Kong for 21st Century*. Hong Kong: Printing Department.
- Wang, X. and Tan, C. (2014) 'From ideopolitical indoctrination to real life narration: Reform of textbooks for moral and citizenship education in China'. In K. J. Kennedy, G. P. Fairbrother and Z. Zhao (eds.), *Citizenship Education in China: Preparing Citizens for the "Chinese century"*, 194–207. New York: Routledge, Taylor & Francis Group.
- Zhang, B. (2013) 'Can Putonghua be the MOI? Survey from secondary school principals'. In B. Zhang and C. Lai (eds.), *Experiences and Challenges: Collected Papers on Using Putonghua as a Medium of Instruction for Chinese Language and Learning in Hong Kong*, 197–206. Hong Kong: The Hong Kong Putonghua Assessment Centre, Faculty of Education, The University of Hong Kong.

Chinese References

- Curriculum Development Council 課程發展議會(1991) 中國語文及文化科課程綱 要(Chinese Language and Culture Curriculum Guide) 香港政府印務局Hong Kong: Hong Kong Government Printer.

- Curriculum Development Council課程發展議會(2017) 中國語文教育學習領域課程指引(小一至中三) (Curriculum Guide for Chinese Language Education Learning Domain) (Primary One to Secondary Three) 香港: 香港課程發展議會. Hong Kong: Hong Kong Curriculum Development Council.
- Ho Man Sing何文勝 (2008) 人民教育出版社初中語文教科書的價值取向研究 (A study about the value orientation of junior secondary Chinese language textbooks published by the People Education Press). 山西師範大學學報Journal of Shanxi Normal University 哲學及社會科學版 (Philosophy and Social Sciences Edition) 37: 156–162.
- Leung Chun Wai and Lee Chi Kin 梁振威、李子建(2003) 從香港小學中國語文科 的教材對人文素質教育的初探(A preliminary analysis of elementary Chinese language's use of teaching materials with humanistic aspects), 載梁振威、李子建合編in Chun Wai Leung and Chi Kin Lee (eds.), 香港小學中國語文課程與教學研究 (181–192頁)(A study of elementary Chinese language curriculum and teaching in Hong Kong). 北京:語文出版社. Beijing: Language Press.
- Liu Sheng-ji. 劉勝驥 (2004) 中國大陸高校教科書中政治思想教育之研究(The study of political ideologies in textbooks of China Mainland universities) Institute of International Relations, National Chengchi University. Retrieved on May 12, 2017 from <https://nccur.lib.nccu.edu.tw/bitstream/140.119/5239/1/932413H004007.pdf>
- National Education Services Centre 國民教育服務中心 (2012) 中國模式——國情 專題教學手冊 (China Model National Conditions Teaching Manual) 香港: 國民教育服務中心. Hong Kong: National Education Service Centre.
- Qi Pei-lin祁珮琳 (2006) 中國大陸小學思想品德教育教科書之研究(A study of the moral education in textbooks of primary school of Mainland China) 國立台東大學教育研究所碩士論文(Unpublished Master of Education dissertation, Department of Education, the National Taitung University).
- Tung Bei-fei 董蓓菲 (1995) 大陸、香港、小學語文教科書的比較(A comparative study of the primary Chinese language textbooks in Mainland China, Hong Kong and Taiwan). 中國語文通訊(Chinese language Newsletter) 35: 1–12.
- Wong Hin Wah and Fok Ping Kwan黃顯華、霍秉坤 (2002) 內地、香港、台灣小學中國語文科課程綱要初步分析比較(A comparison between the teaching syllabus of Mainland China, Hong Kong and Taiwan in elementary education) 載黃顯華、霍秉坤合編 In H. W. Wong and P. K. Fok (eds.), 尋找課程論和教科書設計的理論基礎 (204–227頁) (Searching for Curriculum Theory and the Design of Textbook). 北京:人民教育出版社. Beijing: People Education Press.

Teachers' Bicultural Awareness in Chinese Language Education

Guangyan Chen and Ken Springer

Introduction

Teachers' bicultural awareness (BCA) refers to foreign or second language (FL/L2) teachers' competences in and sensitivities to their own cultures as well as those of their students. With the rapid development of FL/L2 Chinese education worldwide and the increasing need to develop student global citizenship, teacher BCA is receiving increased attention from scholars and practitioners, generating a substantial amount of research in recent years (e.g. Lilasetthakul and Ran 2011; Pei et al. 2016; Xu 2012; Yu 2007; Zhou and Li 2015). Research on teachers' BCA is commonly conducted at two levels: (1) at the K-12 level, where many studies examine inexperienced native Chinese teachers' adaptations to overseas education settings (e.g. Lilasetthakul and Ran 2011; Liu 2010; Wang et al. 2013); and (2) at the collegiate FL/L2 Chinese education level, where many studies explore teachers' abilities to integrate cultural instruction into Chinese language education (e.g. Chen 2017a, 2017b; Qin 2017; Walker 2010; Yu 2009). Taken together, research in K-12 and higher education settings offers a comprehensive picture of teachers' BCA. Hence this chapter includes a review of BCA research at both the K-12 and collegiate levels.

K-12 teachers discussed in this chapter are primarily the relatively inexperienced Chinese teachers who are from China but currently teach Chinese overseas and have limited experiences in overseas teaching. College-level teachers discussed in this chapter work in foreign-language programs and follow the mainstream FL/L2 pedagogical frameworks in English-speaking countries, including the US, Australia, and Great Britain.

We begin by defining the concept of BCA and articulating the need for BCA, and then discussing core issues, BCA research methodologies, and implications of BCA in the FL/L2 Chinese profession. We review literature on teacher BCA drawn primarily from two areas: cultural adaptation and the integration of culture into FL/F2 education. Directions for future research are addressed in the final section.

Conceptual Definition of BCA

BCA is loosely conveyed through synonyms such as cultural awareness (e.g. Tomalin and Stempleski 1993), cross-cultural awareness, intercultural awareness, intercultural sensitivity (Bennett

1993), and intercultural competence (e.g. Byram 1997, 2008). Although these terms have wide-ranging uses and varying foci, they all imply sensitivity to and knowledge of more than one culture. The term *cultural awareness* focuses on general awareness in self-culture, foreign culture(s), or both. The term *cross-cultural awareness*, or *intercultural awareness*, focuses more on awareness of cultural differences and similarities when people with different cultural backgrounds communicate with one another. The term *intercultural competence* focuses not only on 'awareness' but also on 'competence' in communicating with people who are from different cultures. In contrast, we define BCA in this chapter as people's competences in and sensitivities to two related cultures. This definition of BCA contains two parts. One reflects sensitivity to one's own culture and a related foreign culture. The other reflects interpersonal communicative competence in cross-cultural contexts. Below we illustrate each part by connecting BCA to other related definitions.

Sensitivity to one's own culture and a related foreign culture is similar to Tomlinson's (2001) cultural awareness and Bennett's (1993) intercultural sensitivity. This aspect of BCA concerns an individual's adaptation to a foreign culture that does not necessarily require language proficiency. For example, Tomlinson (2001) defined cultural awareness as a 'gradually developing inner sense of the equality of cultures, an increased understanding of your own and other people's cultures, and a positive interest in how cultures both connect and differ. Such awareness can broaden the mind, increase tolerance and facilitate international communication' (p. 5). Similarly, Bennett (1993) defined intercultural sensitivity as related to intercultural adaptation. This aspect of BCA can apply, for example, to discussions of Chinese teachers' adaptations to overseas teaching environments. Overseas teachers must develop BCA to become aware of students' cultural and ethnic needs, as well as the teachers' own needs. Many studies are based on assumptions about this aspect of BCA (e.g. Hammer et al. 2003; Lilasetthakul and Ran 2011). However, this aspect of BCA, as Houten (2015) commented on with respect to Bennett's (1993) model of intercultural sensitivity, does not necessarily include proficiency in another language and, to some extent, ignores or deemphasizes the contribution of language to communication in another culture.

The second aspect of BCA, similar to Tomalin and Stempleski's (1993) cultural awareness and Byram's (1997) intercultural communicative competence, presumes an inseparable relationship between language and culture during the course of cross-cultural communication. Tomalin and Stempleski (1993) described cultural awareness as 'sensitivity to the impact of culturally-induced behavior on language use and communication' (p. 5). According to them, cultural awareness encompasses three qualities: (1) awareness of one's own culturally induced behavior; (2) awareness of the culturally induced behavior of others; and (3) the ability to explain one's own cultural standpoint. Similarly, Byram (1997) described intercultural communicative competence as the ability to ensure a shared understanding by people of different social identities and the ability to interact with people, in part through language, as complex human beings with multiple identities. Byram's definition goes beyond Bennett's notion of cultural sensitivity to suggest a dynamic process of active participation or engagement in communication, guided by an awareness and understanding of culture. Both Tomalin and Stempleski's (1993) and Byram's (1997) definitions reflect the second aspect of BCA in the sense that they all pay attention to language-integrated cultural behaviors and the inseparability of language and culture when people use FL/L2 for communication. This aspect of BCA seems broadly applicable to much research about integrating cultural elements into FL/L2 education (e.g. Chen 2017a, 2017b; Galeano 2014; Hu et al. 2010; Lange 1998; Qin 2017; Walker 2010; Zhou 2004).

All the above-mentioned terms, including cultural awareness, cross-cultural awareness, intercultural awareness, intercultural sensitivity, and intercultural competence, can be regarded as synonyms for BCA since each phrase corresponds to some aspect of BCA. In the same vein,

the phrases we use in later sections, such as cross-cultural adaptation, cultural adaptation, and acculturation strategies, can also be regarded as synonyms for BCA.

Need for Developing FL/L2 Chinese Teachers' BCA

This section articulates four sources for the need to develop Chinese teachers' BCA: (1) insufficient integration of cultural instruction into FL/L2 Chinese education; (2) an increase of overseas FL/L2 Chinese learners; (3) development of FL/L2 Chinese education as a profession; and (4) the need for developing student cross-cultural communicative competence in an increasingly globalized world.

Insufficient Integration of Cultural Instruction Into FL/L2 Chinese Education

Culture is widely held to be an important component in FL/L2 education. This general agreement has informed language teaching literature for decades since Brooks (1968), as reflected in the document *Standards for Foreign Language Learning in the 21st Century* (National Standards 1999, 2006), the revised version of *World-Readiness Standards for Learning Languages* (NSCB 2015), and numerous studies concerning the importance of teachers' BCA in FL/L2 education (e.g. Walker 2010). Many scholars argue that cultural perspectives and behaviors should be emphasized even in beginner-level Chinese curricula (e.g. Byrnes 2008, 2012; Chen 2017a; Yu 2009) given that a goal of beginner-level Chinese learning is to develop cross-cultural communicative competence and that language and culture intertwine in the course of communication. Despite the fact that researchers and practitioners generally regard culture as a significant element in FL/L2 education, cultural instruction remains insufficient in these settings (Byram 2008; Galeano 2014; Yu 2009). Teachers, book editors, and other professionals sometimes marginalize cultural instruction in language teaching practice, and culture is often treated as a superficial 'add-on' (National Standards 1996) in FL/L2 curricula. For example, cultural factors often appear in FL textbooks under labels such as 'small side bar notes', 'cultural notes', 'culture highlights', or 'culture link' (Bennett et al. 2003; Galeano 2014). More generally, as Lange (1998) pointed out, culture is often absent from program goals, learning outcomes, curricular materials, and assessment tools.

Insufficient cultural instruction in FL/L2 education has been linked to limitations in teachers' BCA. For example, Galeano (2014) attributed curricular marginalization of culture to a lack of target cultural knowledge among teachers. Bennett et al. (2003) identified a long list of factors that discourage teachers from integrating culture into FL/L2 education and argued that teachers' limited cultural knowledge is the main factor. As Byrnes (2008, 2012) pointed out, teachers' lack of sufficient cultural knowledge is attributed to the fact that mainstream FL/L2 frameworks do not at present provide a way of educating teachers to develop BCA and to systematically integrate culture into FL/L2 education.

The Increase of Overseas FL/L2 Chinese Learners

The insufficiencies in Chinese teachers' BCA can be linked to the rapid increase of overseas Chinese learners in recent years. This increase in student enrollments has sparked a significant rise in the number of teachers from China as well as teacher training programs (Wang et al. 2013).

In the US, Confucius Institute Headquarters and the US College Board started the first programs for training volunteer K-12 teachers in 2006, and now a variety of *teacher training and*

education programs exist in the US. Correspondingly, many studies focus on the challenges that native Chinese speakers face when they teach Chinese in a US K-12 setting (e.g. Gong 2013; Guo 2012; Liu 2010). Among these challenges, the most obvious ones are insufficient awareness of American cultural, social, and the educational systems, including classroom management and communication problems that reflect teacher limitations in English-language competence. In Australia, Chinese language courses have strong political support. The Australian government proposes that by 2020, at least 12 percent of students could exit Year 12 fluent in one of the Asian languages, including Chinese. However, as Orton (2011) pointed out, there has been limited success in achieving such learning outcomes, specifically in regards to competence in Chinese. The lack of suitably qualified teachers has become the major concern in Australian FL/L2 Chinese education (Orton 2011; Wang et al. 2013). The competence these teachers lack, according to Orton (2011) and Wang et al. (2013), is primarily in the area of teacher cultural adaptation.

However, the challenges identified in the aforementioned studies have not fostered much BCA training for Chinese FL/L2 teachers. Improving teacher BCA is still urgently needed.

Development of FL/L2 Chinese Education as a Profession

With the rapidly increasing number of FL/L2 Chinese learners and Chinese programs both within and outside China in the last two decades, FL/L2 Chinese as a profession has developed accordingly. In 2012, Chinese Ministry of Education issued the *普通高等学校本科专业目录和专业介绍* (*Undergraduate Catalog and Course Descriptions of Colleges and Universities*) and changed the discipline name from *对外汉语教学* (Teaching Chinese as a L2) to *汉语国际教育* (International Chinese Language Education). This change in name illustrates how FL/L2 Chinese as a profession is becoming situated in a global context. In 2008, the *国际汉语教学通用课程大纲* (*International Curriculum for Chinese Language Education*) explicitly stipulated that one goal of FL/L2 Chinese education is to develop student cross-cultural ability. Consistent with these changes, many researchers now treat BCA as a dimension of teacher competence necessary for developing student cross-cultural awareness (e.g. Gong 2013). However, as noted earlier, the actual training provided to teachers has not yet equipped teachers with necessary BCA. As Byrnes (2008, 2012) argued, the mainstream FL/L2 pedagogies, either linguistic-oriented or communication-oriented, do not adequately develop learners' and teachers' cultural literacy.

The Need for Developing Student Cross-Cultural Communicative Competence in an Increasingly Globalized World

Increasing globalization has raised the awareness of the importance of teacher BCA in FL/L2 education, as emphasized in documents, such as the *Program Standards for the Preparation of Foreign Language Teachers* (2002) in the US and the *Common European Framework of Reference for Languages: Learning, Teaching, Assessment* (2001) in Europe. Many FL/L2 researchers (e.g. Byram 1997; Larzen-Östermark 2009; Sercu 2005) also voice the need to promote teacher BCA education as an important part of FL/L2 teacher training. These researchers argue that individuals must possess a certain degree of cultural knowledge and awareness to effectively communicate with others in a globalized world. Correspondingly, it is critical for teachers, particularly overseas FL/L2 teachers, to possess cross-cultural competence.

The impact of globalization on awareness of the need for BCA can be illustrated through examples in Europe and the US. In Europe, the 47 member states of the Council of Europe concur on the need to promote democratic citizenship in their education systems, and efforts are directed specifically toward language education and education for citizenship. Thus, FL/L2

scholars have proposed strategies for connecting FL/L2 programs with the pursuit of European citizenship. For example, one of the most recognized scholars, Byram (2008) promotes the FL/L2 program goals of emphasizing intercultural competence and developing language learners as global citizens. For Byram (2008), both intercultural and language skills are critical to becoming a 'European'. Byram's paradigm operates under the assumption that FL/L2 teachers in Europe need to possess a high-level of BCA to help achieve the goal of developing European citizenship.

In the US, the mission statements of many colleges and universities allude to the importance of BCA through statement expressions, for example, the commitment to educating individuals to think and act as ethical leaders and responsible citizens in the global community. These statements reflect the current need for teachers who possess cross-cultural awareness and competence in an increasingly globalized world. In FL/L2 education, however, cross-cultural instruction is insufficiently integrated into practice even though researchers deem it theoretically important (e.g. Lange 1998; National Standards 1996; Yu 2009). The gap between the theoretical importance of BCA and actual FL/L2 practice reflects the fact that teachers and teacher educators often lack sufficient BCA (e.g. Bennett et al. 2003; Byrnes 2008, 2012; Galeano 2014).

Core Topics

This section focuses on four core topics: First, we discuss BCA as one dimension of FL/L2 Chinese teachers' competence. Then, we discuss three aspects of what BCA entails: knowledge of Chinese culture, knowledge of pedagogies about integrating cultural instruction into FL/L2 Chinese education, and, finally, knowledge of cultural adaptations. For each topic, we provide a commentary on the most up-to-date scholarship and practitioners' opinions with respect to BCA.

BCA as One Dimension of FL/L2 Chinese Teachers' Competence

Many documents that present international Chinese-teacher standards include BCA as one dimension of overseas teacher competence. Examples include the 国际汉语教师标准 (*Standards for Teachers of Chinese to Speakers of Other Languages* 2007, 2012) and the 国际汉语教师证书 (*International Chinese Teacher Certificate* 2014). The authors and compilers of these documents expect teachers to apply BCA to their teaching practices by, for example, identifying similarities and differences between Chinese culture and students' native cultures. However, these documents simply describe what teachers should do and what knowledge and abilities teachers should possess. They do not provide information concerning how to obtain such knowledge and skills. In addition, although these documents disaggregate several dimensions of overseas teacher competence, they do not pinpoint which dimension is more important than others, instead treating them as equally important. In short, these documents function as prescriptions and therefore do not provide teachers with concrete formulae for practices.

Most teacher BCA-related documents, like the two cited above, focus on the teacher adaptation aspect of BCA. The other aspect, cultural integration into FL/L2 education, is commonly found in documents stating the importance of culture in developing FL/L2 learning goals, such as *World-Readiness Standards for Learning Languages* (NSCB 2015). NSCB (2015) reinterpreted the five goal areas (5Cs) of FL/L2 learning: Communication, Cultures, Connections, Comparisons, and Communities, of which three goal areas directly include the aim to interact with cultural competence. The two goal areas of Communication and Connections also indicate cultural elements in their standards through the statement that learners must communicate effectively in more than one language and can evaluate diverse perspectives. All goal areas indicate that

teachers should possess cultural knowledge as one important aspect of FL/L2 teacher competence to help students achieve these learning goals.

Similar to the above-mentioned documents, empirical studies that examine BCA as one dimension of Chinese teachers' competence also delineate the two aspects: (1) teacher integration of cultural instruction into FL/L2 Chinese education to develop students' cross-cultural communicative competence and (2) teacher adaptation to overseas teaching environments.

Regarding the first aspect described above, many researchers argue for the importance of teacher BCA in developing student cross-cultural communicative competence (e.g. Zhang 2016; Zhou 2004). However, empirical studies show that this first aspect of teacher BCA is not well developed. For example, Byram and Risager's (1999) research on pre-service teachers in Denmark and Britain illustrates that teachers are aware of the necessity of teaching cultural competence in FL classrooms, but they lack a framework to implement cultural instructions. Sercu (2005) found that pre-service FL teachers' language-and-culture teaching profiles indicate that these teachers possess limited intercultural competence. Another study on pre-service teachers in Finland (Larzen-Östermark 2009) reveals that teacher training programs do not adequately address cultural elements, and that these programs need a much clearer and stronger focus on culture. Xin (2014) found that teachers primarily attend to student grades on language knowledge and ignore cultural competence. As a result of this mindset, students' cross-cultural communication ability is not sufficiently developed. The four studies cited here illustrate the gap between research and practice with respect to teacher BCA in developing students' cross-cultural communicative competence.

When examining the second aspect, researchers primarily focus on the importance of teacher BCA in adapting to their students' foreign cultures. For example, Golden (2008) argued that student classroom cultural discourse is one overarching challenge that most teachers face in today's FL/L2 classrooms. Ellis (1996) explained that misunderstandings between FL/L2 teachers and local students are common when both sides lack cross-cultural awareness during interactions. A limited number of empirical studies demonstrate the importance of teacher BCA. We did not find any such studies in the field of FL/L2 Chinese education, but, as summarized below, some relevant studies have been conducted in the context of teaching English as a second language (TESL). For example, Fisher and Waldrup (1997) empirically investigated the effects of cultural awareness on learning environments, teacher-student interactions, and student learning outcomes. They found that when classroom structures and teacher interaction reflect equity, competition, and congruence, students exhibit positive attitudes. When teachers exhibit a friendly stance, students acquire more positive reactions. When teachers exhibit an authoritarian behavior, students form negative attitudes in the classroom and exhibit confrontational behaviors. Lee (2000) examined the relationship between the way a training program raises cross-cultural awareness and trainee adaptability to teaching and living in a foreign environment. Lee's findings indicate that cross-cultural understanding should not only be raised, but also be carefully mapped out in advance in TESL pre-service teacher preparation courses. The lack of empirical evidence of the importance of Chinese-teacher BCA seem to suggest that this research topic still has not attracted enough attention from researchers in the field of FL/L2 Chinese education.

In sum, both documents presenting international Chinese teaching standards and empirical studies attest to the importance of BCA as one dimension of overseas Chinese teachers' competences. However, the limited number of empirical studies concerning Chinese-teacher BCA indicate that the research on this topic is still inchoate.

Knowledge of Chinese Culture

Knowledge of Chinese culture is one important dimension of FL/L2 Chinese-teacher BCA. Defining culture and cultural components is a fundamental challenge for integrating culture into FL/L2 Chinese education, as scholars have not achieved a consensus. Particularly useful in FL/L2 are those definitions that relate culture to language communication. For example, Walker (2000) defined culture in terms of its impact on communication. A culture creates contexts, contexts provide meanings, meanings produce intentions, intentions define individuals, and a language provides a medium through which people express intentions and verbally interact with one another.

Another way of understanding culture is to categorize it based on the relevance of each aspect of culture to FL/L2 education (Hammerly 1982; National Standards 1999 2006; Tang 2006; Walker 2000, 2010). The two editions of National Standards (1999 2006), familiar to many FL/L2 practitioners, document one of the influential frameworks of categorization. National Standards (1999 2006) records a 3Ps framework of categorizing culture: cultural perspectives, cultural products, and cultural practices, all of which interrelate with one another. *Cultural perspectives* refers to shared views, values, and ideas of the target culture. *Cultural practices* refers to patterns of social interactions or behaviors accepted in the target culture, such as greetings and commands. *Cultural products* includes both tangible and intangible artifacts of the target culture.

This categorical approach to studying culture is not without problems. It remains to be seen whether the segments identified by one categorical approach are appropriate, inclusive, and definitive (Chen 2017a; Tang 2006; Yu 2009). For example, the traditional greeting ‘吃了吗 (Have you eaten?)’ is a cultural practice. It could also count as a cultural product, similar to the Great Wall and the Beijing opera. This greeting behavior could also belong to the cultural perspective category because it indicates that Chinese people place such a high value on food that they refer to eating in a daily greeting to show care toward others. As Tang (2006) pointed out, ‘Different components of culture are intertwined: they embody each other, complement each other, and together signify a unified body of ideas, values, and practices that distinguish people of one cultural community from those of another’ (p. 86). For practical purposes, categorizing culture into a few identifiable parts is convenient for integrating cultural learning into FL/L2 education. However, FL/L2 practitioners must keep in mind that the term *culture* is inherently holistic.

Some articles provide concrete examples illustrating culture and how culture and language intertwine in communication. For example, Hu et al. (2010) identified three fundamental Chinese values—collectivism, large power distance, and intragroup harmony—and used these three fundamental values to interpret a series of cultural behaviors, such as greetings, farewells, and conversation starters. Chen (2017a) utilized beginner-level Chinese language examples to illustrate *cultural perspectives*, *cultural products*, and *cultural practices* in FL/L2 Chinese education settings. For example, greeting behaviors of ‘去哪儿 (Where are you going?)’ and ‘做什么呢 (What are you doing?)’ and conversation starters, such as ‘你是哪儿人 (Where are you from?)’ and ‘你家有几口人 (How many people are in your family?)’, are both language examples that are typically included in beginner-level Chinese instructions. These language behaviors are all cultural practices and reflect Chinese cultural perspectives of collectivism. Zhou (2004) used Chinese examples to illustrate cultural implications of vocabulary. These works provide teachers with specific examples for integrating culture into their language teaching practices.

The Pedagogies of Integrating Cultural Instruction Into FL/L2 Chinese Education

Another important aspect of what teacher BCA entails is teacher knowledge about pedagogical approaches to integrating cultural instruction into FL/L2 Chinese education. Scholars have articulated several practical models, including Crawford-Lange and Lange's (1987) process approach, Born's (1975) thematic approach, Byram's (1991) integrated model, and Ballman's (1997) content-enriched instruction, but these models and approaches have not been widely adopted in FL/L2 education.

In the field of FL/L2 Chinese education, Walker and Noda have proposed a Performed Culture approach (Walker 2000, 2010; Walker and Noda 2000). Performed Culture is a culture-oriented language pedagogical framework that emphasizes the primacy of culture in language education, and it is currently the best-known pedagogical approach for integrating culture into Chinese language instruction. In recent years, others have conducted a variety of research reflecting this approach. For example, Christensen and Warnick (2006) described how the Performed Culture approach is demonstrated in four language skills (speaking, listening, writing, and reading), grammar, and the editing of teaching materials. Qin (2017) interpreted this approach through the lens of Sino-American cross-cultural misunderstandings. Chen (2017b) situated this approach in FL/L2 contexts by comparing it to the linguistic-oriented Audio-Lingual Method and communication-oriented Communicative Language Teaching. Christensen and Noda (2002) applied Performed Culture in teacher education through a culture-oriented pedagogical paradigm for teacher training. The scholars identified above are among the pioneers in promoting cultural integration into FL/L2 Chinese education and emphasizing the importance of teacher BCA.

Cross-Cultural Adaptation Models and Related Empirical Studies About FL/L2 Chinese Teachers' Adaptions

Knowledge of cross-cultural adaptation is one more important aspect of what teacher BCA entails. This subsection reviews several cross-cultural adaptation models, all of which provide scholars and practitioners with tools to understand cultural adaptation patterns and to interpret adaption phenomena. For example, Berry's (2001) model includes four types of acculturation strategies: integration, assimilation, separation, and marginalization. Ward and Kennedy (1994) divided cross-cultural adaptation into two domains: psychological and sociocultural. Sociocultural adaptation is more relevant to BCA because it refers to the ability to acquire culturally appropriate skills and negotiate interactive aspects of the host environment. In the field of FL/L2 education, the most famous adaptation model is Bennett's (1993) developmental model of intercultural sensitivity, which includes a description of six stages beginning with ethnocentrism (the stages of denial, defense, and minimization) and proceeding to ethnorelativism (the stages of acceptance, adaptation, and integration). This model explains how teachers construe cultural differences and shows how cross-cultural adaptability increases across the six stages. Hammer et al. (2003) summarized Bennett's model as follows: 'The more ethnocentric orientations can be seen as ways of avoiding cultural difference, either by denying its existence, by raising defenses against it, or by minimizing its importance. The more ethnorelative worldviews are ways of seeking cultural difference, either by accepting its importance, by adapting perspective to take it into account, or by integrating the whole concept into a definition of identity' (p. 426). Many institutions' international education services and study abroad programs interpret global competence

based on Bennett's model. In our view, these models are useful tools for studying overseas FL/L2 Chinese-teacher adaptation features.

Since launching the first Chinese volunteer teachers program in 2004, Confucius Institute Headquarters has sent a significant number of volunteers to teach Chinese worldwide every year. Many studies have investigated the cross-cultural adaptations of these teachers. However, few of these studies make use of the cross-cultural adaptation models cited above. Lilasetthakul and Ran (2011) is one of the few studies that applies Ward and Kennedy's (1994) model to investigate the sociocultural and psychological adaptation of Chinese volunteer teachers in Thailand. They obtained four main findings: (1) The relationship between sociocultural adaptation and psychological adaptation is not strong. (2) The relationship between length of time in Thailand and teachers' sociocultural adaptation reflects a 'U' shape. That is, teachers' adaptation is relatively rapid during their first year in Thailand, then progresses relatively slowly, only to increase again after two years. (3) Psychological adaptation inversely relates to duration of stay. (4) The cross-cultural training does not have a significant impact on teacher adaptation. This study provides valuable evidence for a Chinese teachers' cultural adaptation model.

The rest of these studies are related to teacher cross-cultural adaptation, including (1) teacher training focus, (2) the challenges these teachers face, (3) teacher cross-cultural adaptation competence, and (4) teachers' willingness to be trained. Regarding teacher training focus, Jiang et al. (2011) noted that the overseas Chinese-teacher training emphasizes theory, but it does not provide enough chances for developing teacher practical skills, such as adapting to host education systems. Their view echoes Lilasetthakul and Ran's (2011) suggestion that FL/L2 teacher training should develop teachers' cultural knowledge and cross-cultural skills, which teachers actually encounter in their overseas teaching practices. The challenges associated with overseas Chinese teaching relate to teachers' BCA of host environments. As commonly mentioned in these studies (e.g. Liu 2010; Lü and Ru 2012; Pei et al. 2016; Zhou and Li 2015), these challenges include the differences between Chinese and US cultures and education systems, teachers' limited competence in student native language, classroom management, heavy teaching loads, the lack of knowledge about their students' learning styles, and difficulties of adapting to host schools. Some of these studies (e.g. Feng et al. 2015; Liu 2010; Pei et al. 2016) explore overseas Chinese-teacher cross-cultural adaptation competence. Most of the investigated teachers regard classroom management, interpersonal communication skills, psychological readiness, and knowledge of students' native social, cultural, and educational systems as the most important dimensions of teacher adaptation competence. Many pre- and in-service teachers in these studies (e.g. Guo 2012; Liu 2010; Wang et al. 2013; Pei et al. 2016) express willingness to undergo teacher trainings, particularly BCA-related training, such as classroom management and cross-cultural communication. Teachers' willingness demonstrates that they lack sufficient BCA-related knowledge and competence in their teaching practices.

Data and Common Elicitation Measures

This section discusses the research methodologies so that researchers and practitioners can continue this line of research to enhance BCA-related study. The most common research methods for the design, collection, and analysis of data are one or more of the following: quantitative analysis of the data collected through questionnaires, qualitative analysis of data collected through interviews, and mixed-method approaches that use both quantitative and qualitative analyses. These methods are not mutually exclusive. The primary instruments are questionnaires, interviews, classroom observations, and the combined use of the three types.

Among the empirical studies cited in this chapter, quantitative analysis is the most common method of investigating FL/L2 pre- or in-service teacher BCA. For example, Lilasetthakul and Ran (2011) collected data through a questionnaire and conducted statistical tests that include correlation analysis, cluster analysis, and regression analysis. They used these analyses to explore the relationships between psychological and sociocultural adaptations and the relationships between these adaptations and the length of stay in Thailand. Hammer et al. (2003) verified the model of Intercultural Sensitivity using confirmative factor analysis to quantitatively analyze interview data. Many other studies use descriptive quantitative data to report teacher backgrounds, the challenges that teachers face, and training issues they perceive (e.g. Feng et al. 2015; Guo 2012; Jiang et al. 2011; Lü and Ru 2012). These quantitative studies are representative approaches for examining overseas teacher adaptation.

Qualitative studies of Chinese-teacher BCA often rely on interview or case-study procedures. For example, Xu (2012) conducted a qualitative case study by interviewing seven Chinese teachers' opinions regarding the challenges they encountered when transitioning to a US classroom. Similarly, Zhou and Li (2015) employed interviews and reflection writings to explore various challenges experienced by Chinese immersion teachers teaching in the US. Wang et al. (2013) interviewed pre-service teachers and teacher educators to characterize differences between Chinese language teacher education programs in China and those in Australia. Allen (2000) found that an ethnographic review strategy inspires FL teachers to continuously reflect on their teaching practices. Qualitative methodologies are also promising for capturing the views from teachers and teacher trainers regarding teacher BCA-related phenomena.

Some empirical studies examining FL/L2 teacher BCA use a mixed-method approach (e.g. Bektas-cetinkaya 2014; Liu 2010; Pei et al. 2016; Xin 2014). For example, to examine the effects of a cultural content program on pre-service FL teachers' intercultural competence, Bektas-cetinkaya (2014) gathered quantitative data by means of the Intercultural Competence Instrument administered before and after instruction, while collecting qualitative data through participants' weekly written reflections, intercultural tasks, and post-study open-ended questions. The quantitative results indicate that cultural content instruction has significant effects on cultural knowledge, intercultural skills, and intercultural awareness, while the qualitative

findings show that pre-service teachers' attitudes remain relatively unchanged. Studies like this one illustrate the usefulness of a mixed-method approach to studying teacher BCA.

Implications

Guidelines, theoretical positions, and empirical studies on teachers' BCA significantly impact their instructional practices. Documents, such as *A Guide for Chinese Exchange Teachers* (NCU-SCR 2013), provide practical guidelines for pre- and in-service teachers concerning methods of adapting to the US teaching environment. This guide presents specific classroom issues that are likely to arise, along with concrete recommendations for dealing with those issues. In addition, some of the scholarly works discussed earlier in this chapter provide Chinese teachers with cultural knowledge, particularly communicative cultural knowledge in the form of language-integrated culture or communicative culture (e.g. Chen 2017a; Hu et al. 2010; Qin 2017; Walker 2010; Zhou 2004).

As we noted earlier, teachers insufficiently integrate culture into Chinese FL/L2 education (e.g. Lange 1998; Yu 2009), owing in part to their lack of BCA (Bennett et al. 2003; Galeano 2014), and limited BCA on the part of teachers may reflect the fact that current mainstream FL/L2 pedagogical frameworks do not adequately develop teachers' cultural literacy (Byrnes 2008, 2012). In an increasingly globalized world, learners need greater cross-cultural communication

skills, and teachers therefore need greater BCA (e.g. Byram 2008; Chen 2017a, 2017b; Zhang 2016). Bridging the gap between the current globalization-driven needs for cross-cultural communication and the underdeveloped status of teacher BCA is an urgent task for both researchers and practitioners.

Empirical studies addressing pre- and in-service teachers' adaptations to overseas environments show that teachers face various BCA-related challenges, primarily concerning classroom management, unfamiliarity with host cultural, social, and educational environments, lack of understanding of students, and limited competence in student native language (Liu 2010; Lü and Ru 2012; Pei et al. 2016). In contrast, the knowledge of Chinese language (e.g. Chinese grammatical structure), L2 acquisition, and technology-integrated pedagogy are not obvious challenges. These findings indicate that teacher training programs, such as Confucius Institute Headquarters volunteer teacher training programs, should emphasize teacher BCA rather than evenly divide training content into several sections with the same length of training time. We once interviewed 10 such volunteers who taught in K-12 settings in the US for one to two years. These teachers shared many anecdotes illustrating the importance of BCA in classroom settings. For example, one teacher shared her discomfort at being asked by a second grader to open a water bottle for him at lunch time. She interpreted this request as impolite. The child's request is actually unremarkable and appropriate in US culture because this kind of service is not considered outside of a teacher's job. However, a request like this is not acceptable in a large power distance society like China, where a higher-status person (the teacher in this case) typically makes such requests of a lower status person (in this case, the student) rather than vice versa. In short, the second grader's request seems to undermine the hierarchical order valued in Chinese culture. This anecdote illustrates a Sino-American cultural difference that in turn indicates the importance of Chinese teachers' BCA in adapting to US culture.

Future Directions

To date, specific curricula for developing overseas FL/L2 Chinese-teacher BCA and cross-cultural competence remain underdeveloped, despite scholars' emphasis on the significance of teacher BCA. Along with developing a better understanding of BCA and its elements, two short-term goals and a long-term goal are identified. One short-term goal is to identify those Chinese and English cultural elements that are central to BCA. The other short-term goal is to identify the specific challenges and corresponding solutions that overseas FL/L2 Chinese teachers commonly face in overseas teaching practices. The long-term goal is to develop a culture-oriented FL/L2 Chinese pedagogy. Doing so will require a fundamental shift from the traditional linguistic-focused and communication-oriented approach to a culture-oriented FL/L2 pedagogical framework. Under this culture-oriented pedagogy, cultural knowledge and awareness become central goals for student learning and teacher training/education. Changing FL/L2 pedagogical frameworks will be an ongoing endeavor and require tremendous contributions from researchers, administrators, and practitioners.

References

English References

- Allen, L. (2000) 'Culture and the ethnographic interview in foreign language teacher development'. *Foreign Language Annals* 33(151): 51–57.

- Ballman, T. L. (1997) 'Enhancing beginning language courses through content-enriched instruction'. *Foreign Language Annals* 30: 173–86.
- Bektas-cetinkaya, Y. (2014) 'Extension of teacher knowledge developing the intercultural competence of pre-service foreign-language teachers in Turkey'. *Research on Youth and Language* 8(2): 153–168.
- Bennett, J., Bennett, M. and Allen, W. (2003) 'Developing intercultural competence in the language classroom'. In D. L. Lange and R. M. Paige (eds.), *Culture as the Core: Perspectives in Second Language Learning*, 237–270. Greenwich, CT: Information Age Publishing.
- Bennett, M. J. (1993) 'Towards ethnorelativism: A developmental model of intercultural sensitivity'. In R. M. Paige (ed.), *Education for the Intercultural Experience*, 21–71. Yarmouth, ME: Intercultural Press.
- Berry, J. W. (2001) 'A psychology of immigration'. *Journal of Social Issues* 57: 615–631.
- Born, W. C. (1975) 'Goals clarification: Implementation'. In W. C. Born (ed.), *Goals Clarification: Curriculum, Teaching and Evaluation*, 53–73. Montpelier, VT: Northeast Conference on the Teaching of Foreign Languages.
- Brooks, N. (1968) 'Teaching culture in the foreign language classroom'. *Foreign Language Annals* 1(3): 204–217.
- Byram, M. (1991) 'Teaching culture and language: Towards an integrated model'. In D. Buttjes and M. Byram (eds.), *Mediating Languages and Cultures: Towards an Intercultural Theory of Foreign Language Education*, 17–30. Clevedon: Multilingual Matters.
- Byram, M. (1997) *Teaching and Assessing Intercultural Communicative Competence*. Clevedon: Multilingual Matters.
- Byram, M. (2008) *From Foreign Language Education to Education for Intercultural Citizenship: Essays and Reflections*. Clevedon: Multilingual Matters.
- Byram, M. and Risager, K. (1999) *Language Teachers, Politics and Cultures*. Clevedon: Multilingual Matters.
- Byrnes, H. (2008) 'Articulating a foreign language sequence through content: A look at the culture standards'. *Language Teaching* 41(1): 103–118.
- Byrnes, H. (2012) 'Of frameworks and the goals of collegiate foreign language education: Critical reflections'. *Applied Linguistics Review* 3(1): 1–24.
- Chen, G. (2017a) 'Identifying cultural elements in Chinese language curricula using the 3Ps framework'. *K-12 Chinese Language Teaching* 2: 1–26.
- Chen, G. (2017b) 'Performed culture: An approach to US collegiate Chinese language education'. *Quarterly Journal of Chinese Studies* 5(1): 84–102.
- Christensen, M. B. and Noda, M. (2002) *A Performance-Based Pedagogy for Communicating in Cultures: Training ZFOR East Asian Languages*. Columbus, OH: National East Asian Languages Resource Center.
- Christensen, M. B. and Warnick, J. P. (2006) *Performed Culture: An Approach to East Asian Language Pedagogy*. Columbus, OH: National East Asian Languages Resource Center.
- Crawford-Lange, L. M. and Lange, D. L. (1987) 'Integrating language and culture: How to do it'. *Theory into Practice* 26: 258–66.
- Ellis, G. (1996) 'How culturally appropriate is the communicative approach?'. *ELT Journal* 50(3): 213–218.
- Fisher, D. L. and Waldrip, B. G. (1997) 'Assessing culturally sensitive factors in the learning environment of science classrooms'. *Research in Science Education* 27(1): 41–49.
- Galeano, R. (2014) 'Attitudes of U.S. foreign language teachers toward teaching culture'. *International Online Journal of Education and Teaching (IOJET)* 1(2): 134–145.
- Golden, S. (2008) *An Examination of Teachers' Sense of Efficacy, Cultural Awareness, and Their Pedagogy in Diverse Classrooms*. PhD thesis. Kent State University.
- Hammer, M. R., Bennett, M. J. and Wiseman, R. (2003) 'Measuring intercultural sensitivity: The intercultural development inventory'. *International Journal of Intercultural Relations* 27: 421–443.
- Hammerly, H. (1982) *Synthesis in Language Teaching: An Introduction to Linguistics*. Blaine, WA: Second Language Publications.
- Houten, J. V. (2015) 'Intercultural engagement'. *Foreign Language Annals* 48(2): 163–164.
- Hu, W., Grove, C. L. and Zhuang, E. (2010) *Encountering the Chinese: A Modern Country, an Ancient Culture*. Boston: Nicholas Brealey Publishing.

- Lange, D. L. (1998) *The Teaching of Culture in Foreign Language Courses*. Washington, DC: Center for Applied Linguistics.
- Larzen-Östermark, E. (2009) 'Language teacher education in Finland and the cultural dimension of foreign language teaching a student teacher perspective'. *European Journal of Teacher Education* 32: 401–421.
- Lee, P. (2000) 'Cross-cultural awareness raising in TEFL pre-service preparation courses'. *ELTED Journal* 5(1): 17–36.
- Lilasetthakul, T. and Ran, A. (2011) 'A study on the cross-cultural adaptation of the international Chinese volunteer teachers in Thailand'. *Intercultural Communication Studies* XX(1): 208–223.
- National Standards (National Standards in Foreign Language Education Project) (1996, 1999, 2006) *Standards for Foreign Language Learning: Preparing for the 21st Century*. Lawrence, KS: Allen Press.
- NCUSCR (National Committee on United States-China Relations) (2013) *A Guide for Chinese Exchange Teachers*. Retrieved from www.ncuscr.org/sites/default/files/Guidebook%20for%20Chinese%20Teachers%202013.pdf
- NSCB (National Standards Collaborative Board). (2015). *World-Readiness Standards for Learning Languages*, 4th edn. Alexandria, VA: Author.
- Orton, J. (2011) 'Educating Chinese language teachers—Some fundamentals'. In L. Tsung and K. Cruickshank (eds.), *Teaching and Learning Chinese in Global Contexts*, 151–164. London: Continuum.
- Qin, X. (2017) *Understanding Intercultural Misunderstandings Between Chinese and American Cultures: Applying the Performed Culture Approach*. Beijing: Foreign Language Teaching and Research Press.
- Sercu, L. (2005) 'Foreign language teachers and the implementation of intercultural education: A comparative investigation of the professional self-concepts and teaching practices of Belgian teachers of English, French and German'. *European Journal of Teacher Education* 28: 87–105.
- Tang, Y. (2006) 'Beyond behavior: Goals of cultural learning in the second language classroom'. *The Modern Language Journal* 90(1): 86–99.
- Tomalin, B. and Stempleski, S. (1993) *Cultural Awareness*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Tomlinson, B. (2001) 'Seeing more between the lines'. *The Guardian Weekly* 5(2): 21–27.
- Walker, G. (2000) 'Performed culture: Learning to participate in another culture'. In R. Lambert and E. Shohamy (eds.), *Language Policy and Pedagogy*, 221–236. Philadelphia: John Benjamins Publishing Company.
- Walker, G. (ed.) (2010) *The Pedagogy of Performing Another Culture*. Hubei, China: Hubei Education Press.
- Walker, G. and Noda, M. (2000) 'Remembering the future: Compiling knowledge of another culture'. In D. Birckbichler and R. Terry (eds.), *Reflecting on the Past to Shape the Future* (ACTFL Foreign Language Education Series), 187–212. Lincolnwood, IL: National Textbook Co.
- Wang, D., Moloney, R. and Li, Z. (2013) 'Towards internationalising the curriculum: A case study of Chinese language teacher education programs in China and Australia'. *Australian Journal of Teacher Education* 38(9): 116–135.
- Ward, C. and Kennedy, A. (1994). 'Acculturation strategies, psychological adjustment, and sociocultural competence during cross-cultural transitions'. *International Journal of Intercultural Relations* 18: 329–343.
- Xin, W. (2014) *Research on Teachers' Cultural Beliefs and Cultivation Model of Students' Cross-Cultural Communication Ability*. Paper presented at the 2014 annual Australian Association for Research in Education Conference. Abstract retrieved from www.aare.edu.au/publications-database.php/9213/research-on-teachers-cultural-beliefs-and-cultivation-model-of-students-cross-cultural-communication-
- Xu, H. (2012) 'Challenges native Chinese teachers face in teaching Chinese as a foreign language to non-native Chinese students in U.S. classrooms'. *Theses, Student Research, and Creative Activity: Department of Teaching, Learning and Teacher Education*. Paper 20.
- Yu, L. (2009) 'Where is culture?: Culture instruction and the foreign language textbook'. *Journal of the Chinese Language Teachers Association* 44(3): 73–108.
- Zhou, W. and Li, G. (2015). 'Pedagogical challenges in cross-cultural Chinese language teaching: Perceptions and experiences of Chinese immersion teachers in the U.S.'. In P. Smith and A. Kumi-Yeboah (eds.), *Handbook of Research on Cross-Cultural Approaches to Language and Literacy Development*, 159–183. Hershey, PA: IGI Global.

Chinese References

- Chinese Ministry of Education 中华人民共和国教育部. (2012). 普通高等学校本科专业目录 (Undergraduate catalog and course descriptions of colleges and universities). 中华人民共和国教育部 (Chinese Ministry of Education).
- Feng, Liping, Tan, Qinkai and Li, Yudian 冯丽萍, 谭青钦, 李玉典 (2015) ‘赴美, 泰汉语教师志愿者胜任能力结构与特征研究’ (Investigating the US and Thailand volunteer Chinese teachers’ competence structures and characteristics). *学术研究* (Academic Research) 9: 130–136.
- Gong, Zhuo 龚茁 (2013) ‘论对外汉语教师的文化意识’ (Cultural awareness of TCFL teachers). *前沿* (Forward Position) 23: 189–192.
- Guo, Fenglan 郭凤岚 (2012) ‘关于海外汉语教师培训的几点思考’ (Thoughts about overseas Chinese teacher training). *语言教学与研究* (Language Teaching and Linguistic Studies) 2: 33–38.
- Hanban/Confucius Institute Headquarters 孔子学院总部/国家汉办. (2008). 国际汉语教学通用课程大纲 (International curriculum for Chinese language education). 北京语言大学出版社 (Beijing Language and Culture University Press).
- Hanban/Confucius Institute Headquarters 孔子学院总部/国家汉办. (2007, 2012). 国际汉语教师标准 (Standards for teachers of Chinese to speakers of other languages). 外语教学与研究出版社 (Foreign Language Teaching and Research Press).
- Hanban/Confucius Institute Headquarters 孔子学院总部/国家汉办. (2014). 国际汉语教师证书 (Examination outline for Teachers Certificate of Chinese to speakers of other languages). 孔子学院总部/国家汉办 (Hanban/Confucius Institute Headquarters).
- Jiang, Aoshuang, Wu, Yinghui and Fu, Kang 江傲霜, 吴应辉, 傅康 (2011) ‘泰国汉语教师志愿者教学情况调查对志愿者培训工作的启示’ (A survey of volunteer Chinese teachers in Thailand and its inspirations to volunteer training). *民族教育研究* (Journal of Research on Education for Ethnic Minorities) 5(22): 85–90.
- Liu, Jun 刘俊 (2010) ‘赴美国国际汉语教师志愿者调研报告’ (Investigating Hanban volunteer teachers in the US). *世界汉语教学学会通讯* (Newsletter of the International Society for Chinese Language Teaching) 3: 9–11.
- Lü, Yuhui and Ru, Shuyuan 吕俞辉, 汝淑媛 (2012) ‘对外汉语教师海外工作跨文化适应研究’ (Cross-cultural adaptation of TCFL teachers working abroad). *云南师范大学学报: 对外汉语教学与研究版* (Journal of Yunnan Normal University: Teaching and Research of Chinese as a Foreign Language) 1.
- Pei, Likun, Li, Xin and Huang, Yanqi 裴丽昆, 李鑫, 黄妍琪 (2016) ‘澳大利亚中小学汉语教师培训需求研究’ (Training needs assessment for Chinese-language teachers in the primary and secondary schools in Australia). *云南师范大学学报: 对外汉语教学与研究版* (Journal of Yunnan Normal University: Teaching and Research of Chinese as a Foreign Language) 14(2).
- Yu, Li 虞莉 (2007) ‘美国大学中文教师师资培养模式分析’ (An analysis of the models of teacher preparation of US college Chinese language teachers). *世界汉语教学* (Chinese Teaching in the World) 1: 114–123.
- Zhang, Ying 张英 (2016) ‘二语教学目标与中文教师的文化意识’ (The goal of TCFL and teachers; bicultural awareness). *云南师范大学学报: 对外汉语教学与研究版* (Journal of Yunnan Normal University: Teaching and Research of Chinese as a Foreign Language) 14(2).
- Zhou, Jian 周健 (2004) ‘论汉语教学中的文化教学及教师的双文化意识’ (Teachers’ bicultural awareness and cultural teaching in TCFL). *语言与翻译* (Language and Translation) 1: 64–67.

Crossing the River While Feeling for Stones

The Education of a Chinese Language Teacher

Julian K. Wheatley

I was an unlikely candidate for a career as a Chinese language teacher. I was born into an English-speaking family in a suburb of Liverpool in England. When I was five, my father took up a university position in Singapore, at a time when Hokkien was the most widely spoken language and Malay was the local lingua franca. Singapore's 'Speak Mandarin Campaign' was still decades away. I didn't start to study Chinese until my second year of college, and it took some unlikely twists and turns for me to end up as a teacher of the language. Along the way, I had received little in the way of formal instruction either in teaching or in theories of language learning. So I had to feel my way with a vague sense of classroom practice based on prior English teaching, and implicit notions about how students learn a foreign language based largely on the content and organization of textbooks. The editors of this collection suggested I write an account of my experiences, presumably in the hope that a career confessional might contribute some pedagogical pointers and emotional solace along the way.

Testing the Water

I begin at the beginning, with my own education. After transferring to Columbia University in 1966, I began my Chinese language studies under the watchful eye of C. P. Sobelman, 'Su Taitai', who retired only in 2012. Classes met five days a week in Kent Hall, home to Columbia's world renowned East Asian library, and only a stone's throw from Philosophy Hall where Hu Shih studied with John Dewey some 50 years earlier. Chinese courses relied heavily on the Yale series of textbooks (produced under the imprimatur of Far Eastern Publications), beginning with Gardner Tewksbury's *Speak Chinese*, for spoken language and, after a suitable lag, Fred Fang-yu Wang's *Lady in the Painting*, for reading. *Speak Chinese* was organized around model conversations, analysis of grammatical structures, and pattern drills. In those days, Chinese was transcribed in the Yale Romanization that had been developed after the Second World War. For learners used to English spelling, it was a much more transparent system than Pinyin: *shi* was *shr*, for example, *qi* was *chi*, *ju* was *jyu* and *qiao* was *chyao*.

The courses followed the careful choreography of the Columbia Chinese teaching team. Later reading texts included *Read About China*, *Twenty Lectures in Chinese Culture*, *Strange Stories from a Chinese Studio* (based on the Qing compilation, 聊齋誌異), and for a taste of literature, Lu Xun's short story, *Kong Yiji* (with vocabulary lists and notes provided). At more advanced levels, we read extensive portions of Harriet C. Mills' *Intermediate Reader in Modern Chinese*, a formidable work in three fascicles with enough political content and specialized vocabulary for us to continue with Mao's 1949 essay, whose English title was 'On The People's Democratic Dictatorship' (based on the official 1960 version). Readings were all written in traditional characters, even Mao on the people's democracy in its Yale rendition. Some, like the Mao reading were composed vertically others, like *Lady in the Painting*, horizontally.

For dictionaries, we had Fenn's *Chinese-English Pocket Dictionary* and the revised version of Mathews' *Chinese-English Dictionary*. For years, I had assumed Fenn, the author of the former, to be Chinese, but it turned out, though he was born in Beijing (Peiping in those days), he was, like Gardner Tewksbury, the son of a missionary. In those days we spent considerable time looking up—or failing to look up—characters by radical. In fact, we were so familiar with the 214 traditional radicals that we referred to the more common ones by number: #96 was jade; #120 was silk; and so on. Reference materials such as Mathews dictionary used Wade-Giles transcription, which despite its quirks, was also more transparent than Pinyin, and gave newscasters and other non-experts a good chance of producing recognizable Chinese pronunciations (cf. the Empress Cixi in Pinyin with *Tz'u-hsi* in Wade-Giles, and *Tszsyi* in Yale).

The Columbia program taught a good balance of oral and literary skills, though conversation, as such, was not as heavy a focus as it would become in later years when China became accessible. Supplementary materials, of which even in those days there were many, were produced on ditto machines, with their sweet smelling ink and aniline purple print. My exposure to classical Chinese came in the form of an intensive summer course taught by Professor Moss Roberts from New York University, whose commentary (in English) on grammar and on the readings has stuck even to this day.

Wading in Deeper

After graduation, with my career about to take a turn away from Chinese, Providence came to my rescue in the form of a tuition waiver for the Inter-University Program for Chinese Language Studies—the IUP—which was then on the campus of National Taiwan University (NTU), in Taipei. Instruction at the IUP was one-on-one, with a rotation of four teachers per student. To pay for living expenses, I taught English to local businessmen who gathered at the end of their working day for some light learning in the form of colloquial chats and occasional grammatical commentary and drilling. Later, in Hong Kong, I taught advanced English and literature at New Asia College and Baptist College (now Baptist University) and continued to teach the occasional group of foreign scholars well into graduate school.

In those days, the 'back' of NTU was still paddy fields and each morning, from an apartment off Lane 99 on Heping East Road (then only two lanes wide and in our section, lined with small food shops), I walked along the dykes that separated rice fields—encountering the occasional water buffalo—to a pleasant wooden building that housed the Stanford Center (as it was called). I was not an exemplary student. Looking back, I realize it wasn't so much my lack of application—though I probably could have done with more of that too; rather, it was ineffective preparation. Later, in my teaching years, when students complained that their performance did not reflect their long hours of study, I would ask them how they went about studying. Often, I would discover that they studied for speaking without actually speaking—they just read; or

they studied for reading, without actually reading—in the sense of understanding the text. Yuen Ren Chao (1991: 58) wrote that when he studied German, he found success by following ‘my old Chinese habit of reading aloud from the text’. But when he read aloud, you can be sure he understood what he was reading.

Later on, I moved to a rented room in a traditional courtyard house near the Presidential Office Building in downtown Taipei. It was owned by an elderly couple who had come to Taiwan from eastern Shandong province. The wife would shift towards standard Mandarin to help me understand her; but the husband remained virtually incomprehensible to me. (I have always found men’s language harder to understand than women’s.) Comprehension relies so much on context, but sometimes—often—text and context just won’t meld and you end up straining for the sense. After 15 months in Taiwan, I moved to Hong Kong, found jobs teaching English in colleges, exchanged English for Cantonese lessons, and met my wife-to-be—who was not a Chinese speaker—at a very ordinary bus terminal in Kwun Tong.

Finding a Footing

The next step in my education was delayed for several years (which I spent in Hong Kong, England, and France) until I could enter the University of California at Berkeley to do a graduate program in linguistics. My focus was not on Chinese for those years, though I did audit several of Edward Shafer’s courses on classical Chinese. Yuen Ren Chao, though long retired from teaching, still made his home in Berkeley, and appeared at departmental functions occasionally.

Eventually, after rather too many years, I graduated from U.C. Berkeley with a specialization in Tibeto-Burman historical and descriptive linguistics and a dissertation on Burmese. I was not well-armed for the job market. But a last-minute job vacancy and a warm referral by my advisor got me a position at the California State University at Fresno (CSUF) where, incidentally, there happened to be another Berkeley graduate with a specialization in Tibeto-Burman linguistics.

My job at CSUF involved teaching four courses a semester, three linguistics (mostly for future teachers) and one Chinese. The ‘near native fluency in Chinese’ criterion must have been waived; but basic fluency and decent reading skills acquired in earlier times meant I could certainly teach introductory courses. The odd assortment of more advanced students got reading tutorials, which I taught as an overload. I don’t recall having an assistant of any kind. I was a one-man program of a type that is quite common (albeit usually in the form of a native Chinese speaker), which meant no relief for conferences or illness, and—more important—no one to go to for help with Chinese. With my family remaining in Berkeley and me commuting on weekends by bus, I ended up living in my office (以校为家), sleeping under the desk so the janitors wouldn’t see me on their morning rounds, and showering and eating in university facilities. Quite a happy arrangement, for it allowed me to work round the clock preparing for courses that I had never taught before. A pedagogical boot camp.

For the Chinese courses, I must have taken over my predecessor’s course materials—I cannot recall for sure. I think I used Fred Fang-yu Wang’s *Chinese Dialogues*, both the Romanized and the character texts, and the usual books from the Yale Mirror Series. I remained at Fresno for two years, then decided to move on even before I had found a new position. Once again, a vacancy came available a few weeks before the start of a new semester. Cornell’s department of Foreign Languages and Linguistics needed someone to direct their Chinese language program, along with teaching a linguistic seminar on some aspect of Sino-Tibetan or Southeast Asian linguistics each semester. Thanks to another set of exaggerated recommendations I was soon on my way to Cornell, high above Cayuga’s waters, the place where Hu Shih, as an undergraduate, had probably conceived the notion of a Chinese vernacular written language.

Choppy Waters

The Chinese program at Cornell included the Full-year Asian Language Concentration (FALCON) for Chinese, an all-year intensive Chinese course. The FALCON programs had been established to provide graduate students in Southeast Asian and East Asian studies an efficient way of reaching a suitable level of language competence early in their graduate careers. Only after I arrived at Cornell, ready to teach the introductory intensive course, did I realize that the beginning course was taught in the summer—full year actually meant ‘full year’—and I was expected to teach and direct the intensive intermediate semester (along with beginning Chinese in the regular program and a linguistics seminar). I did at least have a splendid office on the top floor of Morrill Hall with a view towards Lake Cayuga. Enrollments in FALCON were not high; but we could always count on a core of students with areal studies grants, mostly FLAS (then called NDFL) scholarships. In principle, FALCON covered more or less the same material as the regular beginning, intermediate, and (so-called) advanced courses—that is, three years in one—with some accommodation to the interests and goals of the students, and additional extra-curricular activities to round out the program and to maintain morale. Most teachers, myself included, taught in both programs.

There were a few detours before I finally settled at Cornell. After only a year, I received a Fulbright research grant, originally intended for Burma, but then, because of visa difficulties, transplanted to Singapore (where there was also a large Burmese community). Midway through my year in Singapore—aware that I had a family to support—I applied again for a new position at Cornell, this time as director of Chinese but without the additional duty of teaching linguistic courses. I ultimately spent over a decade there (1986–1997).

As with many of its sister institutions, Cornell’s regular beginning Chinese course was semi-intensive, with daily sections (conducted in Chinese) and lectures three times a week (conducted mostly in English). Even in the lectures (often with 50 or more students), I still found it effective to shift back and forth between an all-English presentation and all-Chinese interaction, the latter directed at as many students as was feasible in such a large class. Later, when I taught at MIT, where enrollments and staff were insufficient for the lecture-section format, I suggested to teachers that they simply make clear divisions during a single class between presentation—‘fact’—in mixed English and Chinese, and practice—‘act’—all in Chinese as if in a Chinese setting. A clear division between presentation and practice prevents the sort of creeping English use that happens when students relieve the pressure of speaking a foreign language by breaking into English for questions or extraneous remarks.

I didn’t need the example of the tightly structured and carefully programed schedules of the neighboring Japanese program to understand that success depended on student preparation, whether it be in careful examination of the contents of the textbook and visualization of conversational interactions, or preparing for oral classwork by listening to audio material. For most learners, that meant about 90 minutes preparation for every hour in class—six hours of daily ‘homework’ for FALCON students (who met four hours a day). In case a mix of ambition and fear was not enough to ensure proper preparation, our colleagues in the Japanese program (then still under the steady hand of Eleanor Jordan, the doyenne of Japanese language teachers) assessed a daily grade for students which was posted with names disguised as numbers. The Chinese program did not go so far; but schedules included daily lab sessions, often with a teacher-monitor to answer questions and provide help.

When I first arrived at Cornell, the foundation levels of the program (regular and FALCON) were based on the De Francis textbooks, first published in the mid 1960s by Yale. The series consisted of nine carefully integrated (and rather expensive) volumes, three for each level: two

for oral skills (one in Romanization, the other in characters—the latter presumably for teachers more than students), and one for reading (in traditional characters in those days). As a systematic Chinese-learning program, the series was unmatched at the time (and perhaps even now), with all the right features: speaking separated from reading and writing; vocabulary carefully rationed, recycled, and always presented in context; drills for internalizing the material; audio-materials (available from Seton Hall university); and the whole, carefully edited and published in large clear print.

Looking back, it might have been sensible to persevere with the De Francis texts. But after using the series for a year in both the regular and the intensive courses, I felt that the content, focused on long dialogues, content questions, and various drills, was difficult to transpose into lively classroom activities that mimicked the language of the real world. So slowly, beginning with the summer intensive course (which was open to students who were not continuing), we knitted together a variety of materials built around a set of ‘basic dialogues’, and ‘walk-through’ audiotapes (about which, more later).

Recruitment was always an issue with FALCON. The program had its own budget and needed at least eight students to break even, four or five in addition to the scholarship students supported by the East Asia program. We rarely rejected any applicants, but this often gave us a student cohort of widely different abilities. Our task was to keep standards high but not so high that students would drop out. For some years, that meant splitting some of the four classes per day into two sections, an expensive option—though not as expensive as losing students part-way through the year.

A Helping Hand

At the time, the audio-lingual approach (symbolized by the language lab), with its emphasis on oral practice, was dominant. The publication of the ACTFL proficiency guidelines in 1986 encouraged us to think more about goals. I attended a four-day training in conducting oral-proficiency interviews (OPI) and learned the features of the rating scale. I was duly impressed; and in later years, we did administer an audiotaped version of an OPI test prepared by the Center for Applied Linguistics in Washington, D.C. to those students for whom a global evaluation was appropriate, that is, the FALCON students and a few select advanced students. Grades however, continued to be based on achievement, covering specific course material. Proficiency was originally about goals and testing to see if those goals were met. The implications for the curriculum were not so clear, though, and we continued to teach as we had before, with a combination of the audio-lingual method and (gasp) judicious doses of grammar translation.

Early on, I had some opinions about teaching pronunciation and its representation in what was now the current form, Pinyin. Once learned, Pinyin serves perfectly well to represent the sound system of standard Mandarin. But it takes a lot of attention in the initial phases of learning to suppress interference from English words with the same spelling as Pinyin forms (*women*, *hen*, *you*, *she*, *long*, etc.), to distinguish confusing vowel sequences (*uo/ou*, *iu/ui*), and to get used to the dual values of ‘i’ (*qi/chi*) and ‘e’ (*le/lei*), all of which were far less problematical in the old Yale system. In my days at the Stanford Center (in Taiwan), we were also taught *Zhùyīn fíhào* (Bopomofo) which, since it is not a Romanization, eliminates all interference from English. It also conforms to the traditional analysis of the syllable into initial, medial, and rhyme (rather like Korean *hangul* in that respect). It is the only system that allows glossing of vertically written character texts. Knowing it gives access to a lot of useful materials published in Taiwan (modern and particularly, classical). Ultimately, I feel serious students should also spend the short time it takes to learn it.

Opinion varies about how to introduce pronunciation. The Princeton text, *Chinese Primer*, for example, introduced the sound system before students had any content. With strong enforcement, this procedure certainly works. But I prefer to introduce pronunciation along with the memorization (or if that term is to be avoided, ‘internalization’) of a series of short, useful dialogues, which gives students a sense of progress and keeps them in the course past the drop date (which at Cornell was several weeks into the semester).

We developed a number of rituals to begin each class (at least at foundation levels), and which became part of the program culture. For tones, for example, we first taught tone concepts: ‘sung out’ for the level tone; ‘doubt’ for the rising; ‘low’ for the falling-rising tone; and ‘certainty’—or ‘end of a sequence’—for the falling. Perhaps the most important of these concepts was ‘low’ for tone #3 (cf. Chao’s ‘half third tone’) despite its 214 citation contour. Thinking of it as low is the key for producing combinations such as *lǎoshī* or *hěn máng* correctly. Students don’t have any trouble adding a slight rise to give the 214 contour in citation positions.

In addition to the usual drills (most of them involving pairs of words to highlight tonal contrasts), we had students memorize sets of ‘tone combos’ (as we called them): pairs of sample tones made up of selected words or phrases that had already been encountered in basic dialogues: *lǎoshī, jǐnzhāng; bú rè, bú lèi; hěn máng, hěn nán; bù gāo, shàng bān*. And so on up to all 15 possible combinations (3 + 3, of course, merging with 2 + 3).

The beginning of each class was then devoted to a ritual that covered problematic issues, mostly pronunciation in the early days. Students rose in unison to greet the teacher (a practice recommended by my wife, who attended a convent school) and remained standing while reciting from memory, individually or in small groups, cued information: line 5, say, of the table of initials on level tone (*jī, qī, xī*—all ‘sung out’); tone combos #4 and #5 (*bú rè, bú lèi; hěn máng, hěn nán*); the tone rule for ‘bu’ (*bù gāo, bù máng, bù hǎo*, but *bú lèi*—the last with a highly exaggerated rising-falling contour); and pronouncing and spelling pairs such as *duō, dōu* and *bié, běi*.

Of course, even if students can produce tones correctly to cue, they still have to know the actual (lexical) tone of the word. They need to apply ‘the rule of three (for tones)’: select the appropriate tone concept (‘sung out’, ‘low’, etc.); know the tone of the word; and monitor your speech. Good speakers become adept at monitoring their speech with minimal effort and, if necessary, self-correcting—even leaning on their listeners for confirmation. Tones, especially, seem to be so alien a feature for speakers of English (and other non-tonal languages) that they never quite get fully automatic. (Ultimately, making sure learners have actually learned the lexical tones requires some sort of test, such as adding tone marks to pinyin.) Our opening workout might last for 10 or even 15 minutes and include drills on usage and sentence structure (such as ‘the comparative paradigm’: *gāo yìdiǎnr, gāo hěn duō, gāo de duō, gāo duō le, gāo yí cùn*) before the transition to conversational practice and other forms of interaction. I’ve often thought that, ideally, rather than looming over their students, teachers should sit in comfortable armchairs conducting (spoken language) classes with hand gestures and monitoring students as they move around and engage each other.

Further Progress

The main clientele for advanced classes were majors and other highly motivated students. Classes might be conducted in Chinese, but reading was the main focus (along with some composition). Reading genres that contained conversation, such as plays and film scripts, was one way to link reading to speech. But otherwise, there were few advanced texts focused on conversation, which is what inspired Yuen Ren Chao to produce his ‘Sayable Chinese’ volumes, first published in 1969. *Sayable Chinese* provides the sort of lively conversation or narrative rarely found in

other textbooks. Because much of it was a record of actual language, it was also localized—or regional—with departures from standard usage. Plus it includes gems such as Chao's Chinese rendition of Lewis Carroll's nonsense poem, *Jabberwocky* (*Zhábówò*), which served as a wonderful extracurricular escapade for FALCON students.

What kept *Sayable Chinese* off the best-seller list was the fact that, like Chao's *Mandarin Primer*, the Chinese was transcribed in Gwoyeu Romantzyh (GR), a Romanization that few teachers were familiar with. There are a number of reasons for learning GR—apart from the fact that it is fully typeable, with no diacritics. One of them is that it is a good system for transcribing actual language. Chao, using GR, marked both elision (*sherm.me* to *sherm*, *shyh* to *sh*) and neutral tone (with the dot-convention): *Nii sh Jong.guoren. bu.sh?* Princeton's *Chinese Primer* (Ch'en et al. 2007), modeled on Chao's primer, applied the same conventions to Pinyin: *Shi shém kè? Shi. bú.shi Zhōngwén-kè?* Because Pinyin was designed as a diacritical system for characters (hence the representation of 什么 as *shén+me*), I find that, nowadays, publishers—particularly those on the mainland—are resistant to departing from the citation Pinyin given in standard dictionaries. They tend not to indicate grammatically conditioned neutral tone or alternative pronunciations such as *yihuir* rather than *yihui*. Without the dot convention, the normal-speech pronunciations *kéyi* and *náli* get transcribed as *kěyǐ* (or *kěyǐ*), and *nǎli* (or *nǎli*). Chao would write them, using GR, as *kee.yii* and *naa.lii* (indicating the actual pronunciation while still preserving information about the citation tones). Use of transcription that reflects the intonational rhythm of actual speech is rare (even my own textbooks).

For reading at foundation levels, we tried to choose traditional stories (of the sort mentioned earlier) and biographies that were, ideally, composed of words and grammar already familiar from spoken practice. These not only give students a sense of progress, but they also encapsulate aspects of Chinese culture. We stressed building up a competence in using the phonetic elements as clues, however imperfect, for relating character to sound (and then, meaning): 请/情, 经/轻 · 大/达, 我/饿 · 很/跟, 怎/昨 and, once the relationship between alveolar (t, d) and alveopalatal stops (ch, zh) is apprehended, even cases like 东/陈 and 懂/重. 'The rule of three (for reading)' is: the first time, for character recognition; the second for understanding sentences; the third for understanding the text—in the sense of filling in the gaps and comprehending the whole. Students often skimp on—or skip—the last step, settling for a vague sense of the meaning.

Handwriting serves to draw attention to detail (熟/热, 方/万, 午/牛) and for learning stroke order. But otherwise, my '7th principle for learning' (cf. Wheatley 2011: xv–xvii for the principles cited here and below) is: 'Write characters to improve recognition (and I might add, to enjoy the aesthetics), but use your computer to compose texts'. Since word-processing in Chinese involves selecting the correct character from a set of near-homophones, it is, in effect, character recognition rather than character production.

Reading is receptive, so testing needs to test reception—or comprehension. The most direct and effective tools for doing so are comprehension questions, cloze tests (supplying missing words in a text), and translation. The last skill, translation, somehow got a bad name in pedagogy circles. But used judiciously (not necessarily as a class activity), it is revealing. Once the shift to reading takes place at more advanced levels, there may be incidental advantages for instruction to be mostly in Chinese, but there is no reason to insist on it. A philological approach to reading (that is, one that deals with linguistic and textual matters) favors some instruction, at least, in the language of the learner.

As for the form of characters, simplified (simple only in terms of production, not in terms of perception) versus traditional, I vote for a bi-graphical approach. For writing, it is clear that the traditional set is basic and the simplified, derivative. So if both need to be learned, it pays to

start with the former. For reading, however, the simplified set has to be primary since it is now standard in China (and Singapore). The traditional forms cannot be ignored, though, so some readings in traditional script need to be introduced as well. Students should be able to read both even if they only feel competent to write one.

Keeping One's Balance

By the time I arrived at Cornell, the old arrangement whereby a full faculty member was in charge of a language program (developing teaching materials and often teaching the lecture classes) was eroding. The development of a corps of language teachers separate from the professorial faculty of the department required firming up the hiring process, establishing a career path, and finding sources of support for professional activities. At Cornell, the area studies programs, which cut across departmental lines but had a stake in language instruction, provided much support. The new alignment brought with it its own difficulties: teachers had to undergo a more rigorous (and drawn out) process of evaluation; the task of mentoring new teachers fell on the shoulders of senior lecturers rather than professorial faculty; and the new professionalization put pressure on lecturers to do more than just teach. For most though, the new world was an improvement over the old.

Ideally, new teachers were native in one language, either Chinese or English, and 'proficient' in the other; or as the job advertisements put it, have at least 'near-native proficiency', as if the gradient to native proficiency was a smooth one—which it probably isn't. In any case, spoken and written abilities in a second language are rarely comparable. In practice, of course, the preparation of teaching materials as well as the process of evaluation and administration requires native ability in both languages which usually requires a team approach.

From the start, meetings at Cornell both at the program level and the course level were conducted mostly in Chinese. I felt this would allow teachers to express themselves more easily and effectively. No doubt this put me at a disadvantage, particularly when instructions or critiques required careful nuance or delicacy. It also meant that I tended to be the main node through which information passed up and down. That was good in that it allowed us to keep a lid on our Chinese 'family' problems, but bad in that it meant that it tended to cut (some of) my colleagues off from the rest of the department. Of course, my Chinese colleagues might have made the opposite argument: conducting business in English would have improved their English and helped to familiarize them with department and university culture: 逆境成才, success through adversity.

Islands in the Stream

The area programs encouraged outreach, which meant holding mini-conferences for local colleges and universities. We did a number of them, with topics such as testing, Chinese for heritage students, dealing with students of mixed abilities, and program governance. But their main purpose was to draw in colleagues from smaller programs, reduce their sense of isolation, and have some fun with a good meal and some singing.

For colleges in the region without Chinese language programs, we also offered courses through the National Association of Self-Instructional Language Programs (NASILP). Local colleges found tutors—often spouses of faculty; we provided materials. Students were graded solely on the basis of oral interviews. On some occasions, I interviewed several dozen students in marathon sessions that lasted from 10 in the morning until early evening, testing one level after another, not stopping for lunch for fear of losing momentum, and keeping

my energy up by eating a donut (provided by the host) for every few students interviewed. For testing, I adopted a checklist approach, using props, and staying with a topic only long enough to see if the student had mastered the concept. Grades were based on achievement. If students were prepared, I'd find a way for them to show it regardless of how nervous they claimed to be.

Reviewing programs in universities with fewer resources, and particularly overseas programs where the urge to explore the local Chinese setting often overwhelms the need to stay home and study, I have often found teachers frustrated by lack of student preparation. The problem is difficult to solve. Paradoxically, there was a tendency for programs abroad to focus on reading (which is much easier to 'teach') while domestic (i.e. homegrown) programs focused more on conversation (which makes for livelier classes). One solution that has been tried with some success is to gear classroom activities (conversation or reading) as much as possible to the world outside so that students can immediately apply what they learn.

We also taught Cantonese at Cornell, and for much of the time I was there, I was also involved with Southeast Asian language programs, first Burmese and later, Vietnamese and Khmer. Cantonese was populated predominantly by Cantonese speakers who needed to improve their (Mandarin) reading—i.e. 'heritage students' or 'advanced beginners'. But the core of the Southeast Asian language courses were graduate students with an areal specialty. There was apprehension about my straddling language boundaries, and there was not much cross-pollination between programs; but I found the experience with other languages valuable—particularly languages with less entrenched pedagogical traditions.

During my last years at Cornell, tensions within the linguistic corps between those with more applied interests and those with more theoretical made it likely that the department, with its modern languages and linguistics faculty, would undergo a major restructuring. When it happened, the language programs were (mostly) hived off to the area studies departments. Chinese and the rest of the Asian language contingent ended up in the Department of Asian Studies, a happy development as it turned out. But by this time I had left for MIT.

Calmer Waters

Language programs at MIT were housed in Foreign Languages and Literatures (recently renamed Global Studies and Languages), a section rather than a department. Chinese and Japanese were then the only Asian languages taught; on the European side, German, French, and Spanish were offered on a regular basis. The Europeans had developed sophisticated curricula that made use of impressive technological tools. We had much to learn from them; but the Asian-European divide was never so clear as when we talked about reading. By the second year, their students were reading about current events and delving into literature, while ours were still struggling with the very basics. Such is the difference between cognate and non-cognate languages, between alphabetic and logographic scripts.

Directing the Chinese program at MIT was obviously a much smaller operation than at Cornell: no intensive courses (the beginning course met only four times a week); fewer personnel; and most of the students in science and technology. There was no language requirement, *per se*; but students could apply for internships in China through the MIT International Science and Technology Initiatives (MISTI, founded in 1994) which, as the blurb says, offer 'hands-on applications in industry, research, and educational technology across Greater China'. After a number of years assisting with the selection and training of interns, I was made the faculty director and from time to time, traveled with the administrative director to visit our interns in places like Xining and Mianyang, as well as in the larger cities.

There were course requirements for MISTI interns, including at least a year of language. Though not all our students were planning on pursuing internships, we had them in mind when we organized our courses, aiming for basic conversation ability, acquaintance with reading strategies, and a degree of cultural familiarity. By this time, more good listening materials (such as Madeline Spring's *Making Connections*) were available for intermediate levels and teachers became good at larding their curricula with material from online sites.

In the program, the path to conversational competence began, as elsewhere, with model dialogues (much like the earlier 'basic dialogues') that could be personalized with one's own particulars. In my own experience living (though not working) in China, the most recurrent topics of conversation were about oneself, about the language, about weather and geography, and of course, about food, and we tried to incorporate such content in our dialogues. The dialogues needed to be memorized and reenacted fluently so that they could form the basis of further, more spontaneous conversational interactions. 'The rule of 3 (for memorization)' applied: produce Chinese from English cues; visualize the plot of the dialogue; then reenact it aloud (taking both parts). The route to conversational fluency follows the path from simple to complex, familiar to novel, and rote to realistic (#5 of my 10 general principles).

At MIT, schedules and much of the course material (including audioclips) were distributed via MIT's intranet, which was a boon to our just-in-time materials preparation. In the 1990s MIT also began the OpenCourseWare program which made the materials for many of the Chinese courses available to the online world. Even now, more than a decade after leaving MIT, I still hear from people who have heard my voice on audioclips available on OCW. This was before online courses were actual courses that could be taken for credit—and monetized.

Experience has taught me that the health and viability of foreign-language programs often depends on making connections with other units in the university. Otherwise, programs can become isolated and teachers demoralized. At Cornell, we relied on the area programs; at MIT, it was the internship program. But there were other connections to be made as well. Four years into my stay at MIT, my wife and I became resident housemasters for the roughly 400 students of the East Campus dormitory in the heart of the campus—within sight of my office, in fact. While this role probably didn't have any direct bearing on the Chinese program, it did bring me into contact with many more students and faculty, with serendipitous results. For example, the Computer Science and Artificial Intelligence department, when they found out about materials we were developing, asked to use our model conversations as input for their speech recognition and parsing programs. Eventually, we joined them in applying for grants that ranged from spoken dialogue systems for language learning to building online language games for learning English and Chinese.

A Leap of Faith

After a decade or so at MIT, my wife and I decided it was time to move on (again). Our four daughters were grown; and we had been housemasters for five years without a major disaster. I also felt the need for a long sabbatical in order to work away from the distractions of teaching and administering. MIT was generous in offering me a year of unpaid leave so I could satisfy retirement criteria (and retain healthcare coverage as well as an MIT email address). We moved to New Orleans for warmth, ambiance, and because it was my wife, Marjorie's hometown. With the year's leave, I managed to complete the draft of a textbook, *Learning Chinese: A Foundation Course in Mandarin* (汉语基础教材), in which I sought to incorporate teaching materials developed over the years at Cornell and MIT. Yale University Press, in their great wisdom, published it in two beautifully produced volumes, the beginning level (in 2011) and the intermediate

(in 2014). It was an unlikely project: I was retiring from teaching—or at least, leaving MIT; people were talking about the demise of the textbook and its replacement with computer assisted instruction and online courses; and there was no pressing need for yet another Chinese textbook. But after over two decades of teaching Chinese I felt the need to leave some sort of legacy and this was it.

Later, I was involved in the compilation of two other textbooks, but in both cases, as part of a team of authors. One was *The Routledge Advanced Chinese Multimedia Course* (文化纵横观), which was well received and went to a second edition (2014). The other was a four-volume production intended for students studying Chinese in China, called *Chinese for Living in China* (真实生活汉语). Co-authorship has its advantages; but it takes a good editor to knit the various contributions together into a smooth whole. Good textbooks are always welcome. But the problem for teachers is how to transform textbook content into classroom activities that keep the mind focused, and serve to promote efficient learning.

Once away from MIT, a good deal of time was spent in the creation of what I have been calling ‘walk-through’ audioclips. For these, I act as emcee, providing commentary and cues in English to which two Chinese colleagues, one male and one female, respond in Chinese. Yale had originally wanted me to make audioclips for the *Learning Chinese* volumes. But at the time, they were also completing publication of the much more ambitious *Encounters* books, constructed around a specially prepared dramatic series filmed in various parts of China. Somehow, they got the idea of asking me to prepare a series of audioclips for *Encounters* as well. Eventually, I managed to compose scripts for all 20 units, find pairs of speakers (male and female), schedule times, and make the recordings (roughly an hour of recording for each unit). Because I had to travel, the last few units were recorded at studios in China and Hong Kong that dealt mostly in rock music and commercials. Actors were found to play the Chinese roles and, three at a time, clutching our scripts, we would record, standing shoulder-to-shoulder in uncooled sound booths the size of a British telephone box.

Foreign Shores

Two years after leaving MIT, I was invited to spend a year at the National Institute of Education (NIE) in Singapore. The invitation did not appear out of the blue. Earlier, MIT and Nanyang Technological University (NTU) in Singapore had been exploring the possibility of cooperating on a project to develop autonomous computer-assisted teaching programs for Chinese and English. Ultimately, the plan collapsed. But along the way, I had met Professor Goh Yeng-Seng, the head of the Asian Languages and Cultures (ALC) Academic Group at NIE while he was a visiting scholar at Harvard’s Fairbank Center, and once it was feasible, he arranged for me to teach at the NIE for a year.

The Chinese department of the ALC was, not surprisingly, a total Chinese language environment. I could cope, but at a much slower pace than my colleagues. Fortunately, my course load and administrative duties were relatively light. I taught courses dealing with the theory and practice of Chinese language pedagogy; but in all cases, I either taught sections of larger courses, or co-taught with the head.

This was an interesting time for a Chinese teacher to be in Singapore. The Speak Mandarin Campaign had been introduced in 1979 to reduce the use of *fāngyan* (‘regional languages’) such as Hokkien and Cantonese which, it was determined, interfered with the promotion of Mandarin as the ‘mother tongue’ for ethnic Chinese. But by the first decade of the twenty-first century, English was replacing Mandarin as the first language for younger Singaporeans of Chinese ancestry (cf. Goh 2017: §3.5, §8.1). Yet their status as (near) absolute beginners was not

reflected in teaching methods, which still emphasized reading and writing skills over speaking. As a result, otherwise brilliant students in Singapore struggled with Mandarin classes not geared to their actual levels.

My own textbook, *Learning Chinese*, with its lists of ‘ten basic features’ and ‘ten general principles’ (several of which have been cited above), as well as its unorthodox organization and content, made a fine foil for the discussion of pedagogical issues such as the role of non-native teachers, the teaching of spoken Chinese, the relationship between reading and writing, and the range of standard Mandarin. The publication (by Tuttle) of Neil Kubler’s textbook series (beginning with *Basic Spoken Chinese*) at around the same time, provided another model for consideration.

Language policy, I was to discover, is a serious matter in Singapore. Not long before my arrival there, former Prime Minister Lee Kwan Yew, who had to learn to speak Mandarin as a second language, had written a book, published in 2005, on his own experiences: *Keeping My Mandarin Alive*. So it was not completely unexpected when Professor Goh, who had been his Mandarin tutor, arranged for me to meet Lee Kwan Yew (then, holding the title of MM—Minister Mentor). The interview took place towards the end of my stay in Singapore. I was escorted to an elegant office in the Istana and after greetings, we were both wired for sound so that our Chinese conversation could be recorded and later dissected for issues pertaining to vocabulary and usage. Initial nervousness (on my part) soon ebbed, as we talked about language loss, language maintenance, learning techniques, and the problem of vocabulary building (we both kept long lists of phrases for review). The first interview was followed by a second a month or so later with the Prime Minister himself (son of the MM), Lee Hsien Loong (more of a true English-Mandarin bilingual)—still about language issues, but this time, much to my relief, not recorded.

The year in Singapore was followed by a short term at the Hong Kong Institute of Education (HKIE), teaching more or less the same sort of courses on Chinese teaching and learning. My wife and I found lodging in a hostel on the northern edge of Taipo at the foot of Cloudy Hill (九龍抗山), and traveled daily by minibus to the Institute, which stood like a gleaming ship stranded in the countryside. A few of my students were local, with Cantonese as their first language; but most of them were from the mainland. All were hoping to join the corps of teachers around the world teaching ‘Chinese as an international language’ (cf. Goh 2017, chapter 13).

What they made of me, a foreigner, teaching about Chinese language teaching, is hard to say. My defense: ‘A chance to provide a learner’s perspective on language learning’. And as a learner, I would often make errors of usage; or find myself writing simplified characters on the board instead of the traditional characters prescribed in Hong Kong. Such mistakes did, at least, allow me to talk about Chinese as a pluricentric language, with multiple standards (which got a sympathetic hearing from the Hong Kong students).

Variety is the spice of the freelance life. After Hong Kong, there was a stint directing the Duke-in-China summer program at the University of International Business and Economics in Beijing, standing in for the regular director, Professor Carolyn Kunshan Lee. Directing, as I learned, means doing everything from hiring and training teachers to taking ill students to the local hospital. One can only admire those who run such programs year after year. Later, I had a two-summer spell as co-director of the Center for Teaching and Learning in China (CTLC) which, from 1997 to 2014 (when it closed), brought new graduates from English-speaking countries to teach English conversation in the Shenzhen school district. We provided TEFL instruction for them and three weeks of semi-intensive ‘survival’ Chinese (first at Peking University, then at Zhuhai, in the south). Short courses, taught by locally recruited teachers and attended by raw recruits from varied backgrounds anxious about their upcoming jobs are bound to be fraught with difficulties. At best, we could only hope that some of the seeds we sowed

would fall on fertile ground, that the brief exposure to Chinese would lead some to future success in the language—and in China. And indeed, many of these teachers thrived in their new environment, staying on for second or third years or longer.

Coda

As I end these desultory remarks, I hear dear reader saying: “Enough, no more. ‘Tis not so sweet now as it was before’”. I have gone on too long and withheld too little, pouring forth words like beans from a bamboo tube—竹筒倒豆子. I will be content if I have elicited some empathy, some level of rapport with my fellow language teachers; and I’ll be more than happy if readers manage to find some small gems, some insights hidden among chaff.

— ::-----

References

- Chao, Yuen Ren. (1991) ‘My linguistic autobiography’. In E. F. K. Koerner (ed.), *First Person Singular II: Autobiographies by North-American Scholars in the Language Sciences*. Amsterdam and Philadelphia: John Benjamins Publishing Company.
- Ch’en, Ta-tuan, Link, Perry, Tai, Yih-jian and Tang, Hai-tao. (2007) *Chinese Primer*, revised edn. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- Goh, Yeng-Seng. (2017) *Teaching Chinese as an International Language: A Singapore Perspective*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Wheatley, Julian K. (2011, 2014) *Learning Chinese: A Foundation Course in Mandarin*, Vols. 1–2. New Haven and London: Yale University Press.

Appendix

Professor Julian Wheatley Interviewed by Chris Shei

Q: What are the advantages of knowing Chinese and what have you enjoyed the most in using the language to interact with Chinese people?

A: In general, people learn Chinese because of China's strategic importance and its cultural ballast, as well as because it's spoken by so many people, not only within China, but more and more in other parts of the world as well. So if you're going to learn a non-European, non-cognate language, you get more bang for your buck—for the years of work that it takes—with Chinese. For me, though, I was drawn to study Chinese by interests in the Sino-Tibetan family of languages and in Southeast Asia, with its large population of overseas Chinese (speaking 'dialects'—regional Chinese languages more than Mandarin). Of course, knowing Chinese (in the peculiar way that a non-native speaker can be said to 'know' the language), which is considered one of the most difficult of languages in the popular imagination, earns a certain amount of kudos too. I treat learning Chinese, even now after many years of study, as a kind of anthropological fieldwork that involves observing how people use the language and how they interact with me, reading advertisements, notices and graffiti, scanning online material, and filling notebooks (of which I have too many to ever fully review) with jottings and examples. (I do the same for other languages, but there's more to observe for Chinese.) With a foreign language, everything is interesting.

Q: As an English native speaker, what would you consider the greatest challenge in learning and using Chinese? What advice would you give to people aspiring to learn Chinese or to become a teacher or language researcher?

A: This requires a longer answer. Like any other language, the greatest difficulty in learning Chinese is usage, which I would define as the matching of words (or phrases) to context. What exactly would a Chinese speaker say in a particular situation? For example, in a restaurant mulling over the menu, in English we might ask the waiter, 'What's a good fish to have?'; but Chinese would probably say *Shénme yú zuì fěi?*, literally, 'What fish is fattest?' You can't know this unless you've been told it or overheard it. One can only observe interactions and take notes, and then—because we don't absorb language as fast as young children—find ways to practice new material in speech. Notice I don't mention tones. With proper application, tones and other aspects of pronunciation can be internalized quite effectively. But I do need

to mention reading. For it is reading that gives Chinese its reputation as ‘a hard language’. Reading is a process of recovering the language (syllables, words, phrases, grammatical structure) encoded by written text. The challenge of (Chinese) characters is that there are so many of them and that they provide the most meagre of phonetic (and hence, lexical and grammatical) clues. Chinese children can spend many years internalizing the form, sound, and sense of thousands of characters. For adults, who don’t already speak the language, the process sometimes seems interminable. To make matters worse, written styles incorporate, to various degrees, elements of Classical Chinese, a writing style—in many ways, a different language—based on canonical texts whose roots are in language that is several thousand years old. These are the challenges. So what to do? Well, you can look for colloquial material on the internet that relates to what you know of the spoken language. For news, it helps to read about familiar current events so that you can fill in the gaps from background knowledge. It also pays to stick to a genre—linguistics in my case—and get good at reading in it. Ultimately, it is important to enjoy the process, treating difficult parts as a puzzle that may need to be decoded (using online lookup tools as well as traditional reference materials) rather than actually ‘reading’ them.

Q: How do you compare China now with the country you knew when you first came to know the language many years ago? What have you liked (disliked) and still like (dislike) about the country? What are the implications of the recent changes to Chinese language learners?

A: I first travelled to China proper in 1982 (though I had studied in Taiwan and Hong Kong before that). China was then emerging from the Cultural Revolution (which officially ended in 1976); the population was still concentrated in the countryside, vehicles were sparse (trains were still steam-powered), clothing was uniform, cities were low-rise, people were more restrained, foreigners few in number, and people seemed to have more time to sit around chatting—or at least I felt less compunction about taking up their time. Nowadays, you’d be lucky to find traces of this not-so-ancient China even in the countryside. Learning the language still requires obsession with detail and a tolerance for hard and often rather boring work. But there are far more tools available for the learner: good textbooks, access to actual language (podcasts, websites), convenient online reference materials (dictionaries, checking usage by Google search, etc.), and translation applications (that provide raw translation of any electronically prepared text, automatic transliteration from and to pinyin, etc.) These tools may not speed up the learning—the internalization—of the language; but they take a good deal of the mind-numbing labor out of the process.

Things about China that I have liked all along: the hubbub of urban life; the strategic use of humility in social situations; the bonhomie and banter at meal times (at home or out). Annoyances: very few—after all, I face rather fewer of the bureaucratic difficulties and competitive struggles of day-to-day life in China. But I could mention the readiness to categorize or stereotype people and places—even within China.

Q: Would you name a Chinese person that you remember the most and why?

A: You mean someone I know, presumably, so I can’t cite the great Chinese linguist, Yuen Ren Chao (whom I did meet in my Berkeley days). Otherwise, propriety requires that I choose one of my many fine teachers, but how can I choose one over the other? Instead, I mention a civilian friend with the Cantonese name of Keung Kwan but who actually grew up in the north of China, in Beijing, during the Cultural Revolution with all that that entails. Her Mandarin is standard but not the affected standard of teachers and newscasters. So her dulcet

tones are to be heard on many of the audioclips that accompany the second volume of my Chinese textbook. She also exhibits the resilience and business acumen of so many of my Chinese acquaintances, a product of many years of adversity. Now well-off and retired, she wonders at my meagre academic income and lack of entrepreneurial spirit. We always speak and write—mostly text—in Chinese. I appreciate that.

Q: Would you name a Chinese country, region or city that you like the most and why?

A: I could cite Kunming, Singapore, Hong Kong, Nanjing (mostly southern places, note). But one place I used to make a point of returning to is the gritty city of Zhenjiang (镇江), known for a type of fragrant vinegar, but otherwise, a highly industrialized port city (now with a population of around six million) on the southern bank of the Yangzi River, about an hour by (local) train east of Nanjing. There have been efforts to preserve or recover some of Zhenjiang's history: one of its three major temples is associated with the 'Legend of the White Snake'; it is said that Marco Polo came ashore at the foot of 'Small Wharf Street'; and, with more certainty, Pearl Buck spent a number of years in Zhenjiang. On my visits, I would climb to the top of Yuntai Hill ('cloud-platform hill') and look out over the sprawl of the city, always under a pall of haze and smoke. On several occasions I encountered a woman who whistled Chinese folk songs—a virtuoso whistler; and there were always a few retirees (the retirement age is still, as far as I know, 55 for women and 60 for men) who sang Western arias, Peking opera, Chinese folk songs, and popular songs from the 1930s from their perch above the city. I was part of an audience of perhaps a half dozen. We chatted between songs. They sang my requests. Forget the monuments and designated sights (景点 'viewing spots'). It's serendipitous encounters with people from all levels of society that intrigue—and elevate the soul.

Q: Would you name a Chinese occasion that you had most enjoyed in your life and describe it?

A: A single occasion, that's difficult. I do enjoy the time when the singing starts at the end of a formal meal, or banquet. All guests seem to have a repertoire of songs and sing like professionals. Experience has taught me to have a few songs at hand. I generally start with the Chinese version of Red River Valley (红河谷) because I know the tune; and then, if I'm feeling confident, I follow with a well-known and much loved Anhui folksong—a lovesong—that begins *shù-shàng-de niǎo chéng shuāng duì* 'the birds on the tree make a couple'. Since speaking a foreign language is already a sort of performance, I find I'm less shy about singing in Chinese. Singing after a good meal—as Chinese often do—fosters a spirit of cordiality and friendship that cuts across linguistic and cultural boundaries.

Q: Has it been a good life? What privileges has knowing Chinese given you? What privileges has knowing Chinese as a Westerner given you in this life?

A: My previous answers suggest that it has—been a good life: travel, adventure, intrigue, intellectual stimulation. But it hasn't been easy. I worry a lot. If I'm interpreting or listening to a spoken message, I worry that the speaker is going to try to impress the audience (or me) by citing some classical allusions or pithy sayings which will completely flummox me. (I've learned to deal with it—to negotiate the meaning—with a bit of back and forth, but still, one is never secure in a foreign tongue.) I still find it hard to read Chinese for pleasure (rather than for work). And I continue to make cultural faux pas (such as being the only person not to show up to wish an eminent academic off early in the morning—to 送人 'see someone off'—an important show of respect). Many people I speak to—most in fact—have

a utilitarian view of language; they wonder why I don't do something with it—set up a consultancy service or go into business in China. (Knowing the language helps break the ice; but it's more important to know about business.) However, I regard the language itself as an adequate goal, learning, teaching, writing about it. On the whole, I've found the study and teaching of Chinese stimulation enough. And it has taught me (more than other foreign languages perhaps) that trying to communicate in one's native language is also a process of crossing the river by feeling for stones.

January 7, 2019

Index

- accented 182, 183, 188, 200
accents 151, 196, 330, 383, 386
accuracy 7, 11, 87, 88, 109, 120, 122, 128, 136, 139, 140, 142, 168, 169, 196, 203, 209, 249, 275, 327, 451, 479, 501, 503, 504, 509, 511, 513–515, 517, 519, 523, 528, 529, 532
acoustic 8, 166, 169, 178, 181, 189, 194
activities: and assessment 430; and goals 119; role-plays 249, 263
adaptability 345, 632, 634
adjective 145, 155, 167, 280, 287, 290, 291
advanced-level 9, 129, 206, 272, 335, 381, 386, 429, 452, 459, 623
adverb 145, 282, 287–291, 294–298, 310, 529, 532, 537, 538
animation 369–371, 374, 494–496, 498, 499, 506
apps 43, 140, 230–232, 362, 425, 434, 437, 496, 498–500, 504, 505, 510, 513, 517, 522
articulation 10, 98, 143, 144, 157, 172, 175, 350, 472
aspectual 288, 293, 296, 316, 317, 537
aspiration 163, 164
assessment 10, 69, 72, 73, 83, 87, 88, 93, 94, 99, 101, 104, 106, 119, 120, 124, 128–130, 134, 137, 142, 143, 173, 174, 191, 324, 330, 345–347, 349, 350, 353–355, 374, 405, 409, 411–413, 415, 420–422, 426, 430, 438, 448, 449, 451, 454, 455, 471, 494, 508, 525, 546, 557, 568, 569, 577, 591, 612, 625, 629, 630, 640
assignments 124, 125, 430, 435, 453, 455, 517
attention spans 362
attrition 55, 233, 234
audio-lingual 82, 84–86, 88, 136, 140, 195, 253, 324, 512, 513, 645
audiolingualism 84–86
audio-visual 9, 152, 177, 189, 192, 253, 358, 371, 373, 462, 467, 482
authenticity 120, 121, 126, 127, 131, 137, 146, 362, 448, 460, 520, 521
authentic materials 72, 90, 91, 129, 130, 214, 216, 325, 347, 358, 359, 374, 535
automated 281, 514, 519, 521, 522, 527
automaticity 136, 326
autonomous 56, 427, 462, 467, 469, 472, 482, 593, 594, 609–611, 651
autonomy 83, 136, 234, 235, 420, 526, 540, 541, 551, 593, 614, 622
auxiliary 152, 156, 239, 265, 394
awareness, intercultural 627, 628

ba-construction 391
baidu 253, 454
bèi 135, 259
bié 307, 646
blended learning 91, 515, 524
blog(s) 223, 349, 358, 369, 370, 372, 374, 494–496, 507, 519
boundary-marking 182
brainwashing 621, 623
business Chinese 122, 129, 250, 253, 254, 411, 544–549, 557–559, 561, 575
business culture 547, 553
business negotiation 250–252
business topics 546, 547, 549, 552

calligraphy 10, 39, 212, 232, 347, 363, 364, 485–488
Cantonese 4, 64, 66–68, 178, 194, 213, 386, 411, 412, 453, 617, 622, 623, 643, 649, 651, 652, 655
causal 193, 248
causation 282
causative 282
censorship 395, 404
certificate 68, 70, 250, 568, 571, 572, 579, 580, 586, 588, 623, 631, 640
certification 68, 70, 408, 409, 586
character acquisition 62, 233
character-based 100, 140, 206, 272, 499
character components 54, 499
character learning 95, 206, 231–236, 485, 489, 493–495, 506
character recognition 90, 147, 234, 499–501, 503, 522, 647
character teaching 17, 20–22, 31, 145, 235, 491

- Chinese courses 66, 84, 95, 100, 257, 337, 433, 463, 470, 473, 545, 546, 550, 551, 558, 560, 572, 574, 577, 641, 643, 650
- Chinese culture 37, 250, 325, 328, 337, 384, 385, 389, 411, 482, 618
- Chinese government 34, 44, 50, 83, 146, 393, 464, 576, 594, 620
- Chinese heritage 61, 64, 65, 68–71, 73–77, 327, 392, 414, 441, 577, 587, 588
- Chinese literature 1, 3, 5, 42, 54, 212, 222, 223, 460, 463, 464, 470, 473, 615
- Chinese programs 3, 5, 59, 73, 74, 82, 97, 102, 346, 349, 380, 418, 470, 557, 565, 587, 630
- classical Chinese 84, 85, 96, 214, 215, 218–223, 232, 331, 334, 340, 342, 399, 400, 463, 464, 473, 643, 655
- classifiers 173, 262, 265, 271
- cloud-based 495
- coarticulation 159, 169, 184, 187, 198–205, 209
- coda 156, 653
- cognitive processing 95, 125, 139, 415, 515
- collocation 11, 281, 287, 494, 495, 502, 505, 526–528, 530, 531, 533–537, 539–543
- communicative language teaching 10, 12, 83, 84, 94, 118, 136, 148, 195, 246, 253, 448, 462, 468, 634
- community-based 6, 64, 66–68, 73, 74
- composition 230, 232, 327, 332, 426, 428, 430, 432, 439, 445, 463, 471, 590, 646
- compound 138, 206, 274, 280, 481, 482, 489, 510, 529
- computer assisted language learning 10, 439, 505, 506, 509, 511, 524, 525, 541
- computer-mediated communication 356, 428, 439, 440, 494
- concordancers 502, 505, 535, 537, 539, 540
- Confucius institute 35, 37, 39, 41, 69, 71, 72, 74, 141, 411, 546, 566–568, 570, 575, 579, 580, 629, 635, 640
- consonant 156, 157, 159–161, 163, 166, 227
- content-based instruction 90, 97, 98, 368, 374, 460
- co-occurrence 280, 281–283, 292, 502
- cooperative learning 22–24
- corpora 145, 284, 495, 502, 527, 528, 536, 538, 540–543
- coursework 3, 191, 283, 284, 606
- credit-bearing 67, 68, 545
- culturally 2, 9, 10, 90, 136, 251, 270, 328, 329, 345, 362, 407, 418, 438, 477, 589, 617, 628, 634, 638
- curriculum development 71, 75, 76, 87, 132, 354, 356, 375, 391, 392, 441, 443, 581, 589, 617–619, 622, 624, 625
- curriculum standards 19, 20, 23–26, 29, 31, 393, 394, 403, 614
- customized 93, 174, 367
- cyberspace 91, 495, 525
- declarative 104, 135, 182, 200
- decontextualized 204, 206, 207
- degree adverb 290
- degree courses 37, 138, 140, 463
- degree programs 83, 464, 546, 547, 572, 574, 604
- democratic citizenship 624, 630
- dependency 11, 527–534, 538, 541–543
- derivative 229, 309, 647
- descriptive study 420, 506, 525
- developmental 70, 132, 139, 339, 345, 354, 414, 474, 634, 638
- diagnose 7, 151, 408, 438
- dialects 47, 61, 138, 192, 208, 213, 216, 223, 227, 387, 390, 453, 585, 594, 654
- diaspora 378, 391, 447, 448, 453
- dictionary 48, 59, 85, 109, 110, 214, 219, 223, 227, 228, 231, 282, 492, 503, 504, 527, 528, 535, 539–543, 548, 565, 642
- disambiguation 274–276, 283, 284
- discourse analysis 9, 23, 323, 393, 404, 478
- discourse function 181, 299, 301
- documentaries 360, 361, 366, 368
- domestic 3, 24, 33, 34, 39, 45, 57, 58, 590, 611, 649
- drama 129, 231, 340, 359, 360, 363, 364, 366, 369, 374, 430, 466
- dynamic learning 231, 349
- ecological approach 427, 429, 430, 437, 438
- economic development 2, 66, 547, 555, 581, 593, 594, 609, 615
- economic growth 39, 544, 576, 577
- economic power 37, 566, 576, 584, 591
- economic reforms 547, 594, 610
- e-dictionaries 494–496, 504, 507
- education programs 71, 73, 146, 148, 592, 600, 609, 630, 636, 639
- education systems 586, 596, 602, 630, 635
- elementary Chinese 31, 55, 98, 130, 210, 626
- elementary school 66, 116
- English-speaking countries 97, 285, 581, 627, 652
- English-speaking learners 9, 168, 205, 276, 277, 288, 289, 296, 297, 321, 323, 334, 391, 511, 587–588
- error analysis 19, 20, 35, 40, 42, 46, 287, 296, 297
- error correction 126, 261, 540
- error patterns 168, 170
- evidence-based 25, 75, 124, 193, 208, 348, 418
- exercises 72, 87, 88, 91, 104–106, 119, 170, 172–175, 178, 189–191, 198, 204, 208, 215–218, 220, 222, 223, 229, 230, 234, 239, 240, 242, 275, 283, 284, 326, 327, 329, 331, 332, 334, 353, 430, 442, 444, 450, 451, 453–455, 464, 465, 468, 501, 547, 550, 552, 553, 555
- Facebook 231, 362, 425, 427, 428, 431, 434, 435, 439, 442, 444, 517, 518
- feudalism 615
- fiction 459, 463, 466

Index

- fieldwork 12, 593, 596, 598, 654
films 10, 334, 359, 371, 374, 448–453, 456–460
first-language 6, 17–19, 24, 27, 30, 102, 136, 165, 179, 526, 527, 540, 549, 583
fluency 2, 11, 56, 70, 86, 88, 109, 111, 120, 122, 140, 143, 147, 148, 178, 196, 197, 208, 216, 239, 241, 242, 326, 331, 333, 428, 502, 509, 511, 515, 519, 523–525, 610, 643, 650
foreign-language classroom 134, 272, 284, 369, 477
foreign-language education 7, 72, 87, 88, 92, 447–449
foreign-language instruction 345, 347, 349, 366, 405, 448
foreign-language learners 9, 70, 266, 272, 339, 468, 533, 541
foreign-language teaching 57, 82, 89, 92, 137, 253, 264, 276, 547
form-focused 7, 8, 131, 136, 143, 147, 191, 194, 257–262, 264, 270, 271, 553, 560
formulaic expressions 333
formulaic units 139
forums 141, 433, 441, 495
fossilization 151, 201
frequency 19, 20, 34, 35, 40, 125, 132, 166, 181, 182, 187, 194, 196, 205, 231, 257, 260, 261, 270, 275, 309, 333, 334, 396–401, 403, 527, 533, 534
functional approach 193, 220, 223
functional grammar 139, 146, 403
functional linguistics 393, 404
function words 173, 217, 218, 220, 286, 296, 297

games 22, 69, 100, 104, 106–108, 126, 130, 264, 494, 507, 512, 517, 538, 595, 650
global contexts 93–95, 460, 612, 639
Google 283, 284, 494–496, 502, 505, 506, 519, 528, 655
government-commissioned 227
grades 116, 131, 348, 397–401, 411–413, 415, 521, 616, 632, 645, 649
grammar instruction 8, 87, 257–262, 264, 265, 270, 271, 299, 430, 508
grammar teaching 19, 20, 119, 147, 257–260, 264, 269, 270, 471, 485, 488
grammatical pattern 214, 257–259, 262–265, 267, 268, 270
grammatical rules 85, 136, 139, 151, 239, 259, 262–264, 267, 269, 270, 462, 511
grammatical structures 85, 91, 103, 121, 125, 129, 140, 220, 334, 450, 452, 454, 514, 641
grapheme-morpheme 479, 480
grapheme-phoneme 478–480
graphemes 213, 478, 480, 481
grapheme-sound 479, 480

hanban 10, 38, 39, 69, 71, 74, 137, 143, 407, 411–413, 415, 416, 422, 440, 546, 576, 640
handwriting 231, 234, 331, 332, 499, 501, 502, 504, 647

hegemony 37, 39, 611, 613, 622
high-frequency 39, 206, 221
high-intermediate 536, 539
historical events 338, 398, 456, 457
historical figures 112, 399
holistic approach 137, 235, 451, 509, 512, 518, 524, 550
human-computer 426, 503

identity development 72, 73
ideological 18, 20, 21, 38, 39, 44, 214, 218, 393, 394, 403, 613, 614, 616, 625
ideologies 9, 75, 393, 396, 404, 613, 615, 616, 623, 626
idiomatic 60, 430, 452, 502, 537
idioms 110, 112, 387, 399, 542, 591
imperative 184, 185, 258, 307, 456
implicatures 314, 315
inaccurate 42, 292, 514, 520
inflectional 84, 531
input and output 93, 125, 307
input-based 89, 93, 124, 125
institution-wide language provision 473, 474, 572–574
interdisciplinary 338, 478, 484, 490, 491, 574
interference 42, 168, 169, 178, 182, 526, 527, 540, 645
interlanguage 42, 45, 46, 119, 120, 131, 164, 168, 177, 291, 296, 469, 473, 474
intermediate-level 10, 283, 329, 333, 363, 372, 386, 387, 428, 439
internship 37, 39, 46, 58, 545, 548, 650

Japanese speakers 196, 209
job advertisements 68, 648
job opportunities 66
journalism 2, 3, 359
juxtaposition 293

kaoshi 137, 253, 412, 421, 431, 440
key concepts 34, 271, 457, 612
key elements 121, 264, 287, 482
key issues 258, 377, 466, 474, 552
key points 327, 419, 517
key stage 71, 566, 580
keywords 6, 17–20, 22–24, 30, 34–36, 39–41, 65, 121, 124, 232, 266
kindergarten 2, 3, 108, 409, 589, 595
knowledge-based 233, 338
Kumaravadivelu 45, 83, 94, 136, 146, 147

Labiodental 157
language acquisition 19, 40, 42, 53, 62, 69, 75, 87, 94, 95, 116, 119, 131, 134, 136, 146, 147, 151, 164, 165, 177–179, 193–195, 209, 236, 257, 261, 270, 271, 299, 316, 317, 323, 337, 374, 378, 391, 420, 426, 430, 439, 440, 448, 450, 451, 473, 474, 491, 500, 525, 527, 539, 542, 543, 547, 604

- language policy 12, 37, 138, 147, 390, 579,
 581–584, 591–596, 606, 608–610, 612, 614,
 615, 622, 625, 639, 652
 language processing 11, 72, 193, 261, 269, 426,
 495, 500, 527, 528, 542, 543
 Larsen-Freeman 136, 147, 261, 271
 learner-centered 11, 88, 258, 375, 391, 426, 482,
 510
 learning process 42, 58, 87, 90, 91, 120, 126,
 231–233, 235, 247, 325, 328, 427, 438, 450, 472
 learning strategies 95, 230, 232, 235, 236, 324, 327,
 330, 407, 427, 517, 550, 551
 learning theories 11, 43, 511, 512, 552
 level-appropriate 129, 553
 linguistic knowledge 7, 21, 26, 86, 135–137, 143,
 147, 151, 152, 162, 172, 485, 488, 556
 linguistic theory 136, 246, 275, 284, 316, 426
 listening comprehension 95, 96, 204, 329, 330, 374,
 386, 451, 454, 460
 listening exercises 189, 198, 204
 literacy development 67, 68, 77, 90, 103, 104, 389,
 639
 literacy skills 65, 67, 69, 102, 107–110, 429, 501
 low-intermediate 536

 Mandarin-speaking 73, 178, 568, 569
 materials development 72, 87, 323, 335, 460, 484,
 492, 576, 578, 583
 meaning-focused 8, 118, 257–260, 262, 429
 measure words 8, 119, 257, 262, 264–268, 270,
 485, 486, 489, 490
 metacognitive 90, 91, 232–235, 438, 523
 meta-linguistic 104, 152, 261
 methods of teaching 7, 53, 81, 96, 239
 mispronunciation 205
 misunderstanding 28, 158, 251
 misuse 287, 292, 294, 497
 mnemonics 230, 234, 236
 mobile 91, 230, 362, 425, 440, 495, 496, 504, 505,
 507, 510, 514, 524
 modifier-noun 528, 529, 531–533
 modifier-verb 532
 monosyllabic 169, 176, 201, 226, 272, 273, 503
 morphological 41, 42, 84, 163, 378
 multicultural 12, 25, 37, 61, 94, 146, 393, 447, 448,
 524, 578, 582, 584, 591, 592, 612
 multilingual education 12, 76, 593–598, 601, 604,
 606–609, 612, 624, 625
 multimodal pedagogy 10, 476, 478, 481–484,
 490, 491
 multi-syllabic 206, 272, 499, 501, 502

 narrative 1, 5, 12, 25, 87, 89, 95, 103, 112, 113, 146,
 212, 302, 304, 340, 351, 352, 361, 448, 458, 553,
 646
 national identity 448, 614, 616, 618–624
 national policy 6, 581–583, 591
 national spirit 394, 396, 398, 403

 national standards 40, 347, 348, 405, 629, 631,
 633, 639
 native-speaker 54, 55, 87, 464, 470, 590
 near-homophones 647
 near-synonym 274, 275, 277, 280–282, 284
 needs-analysis 9
 negations 279, 293
 neuroscience 59
 normalization 472, 497, 507, 509, 512
 notice 126, 196, 200, 204, 261, 264, 366, 445, 501,
 540, 654
 notional-functional 126
 novice-level 129, 429
 numerals 485

 objectives 82, 83, 86, 87, 94, 106, 111, 112, 125,
 126, 140, 173, 275, 322–324, 337, 346, 351, 353,
 368, 431, 453, 476, 483–485, 489, 550, 585, 587,
 589, 591, 593, 615, 617
 online-chat 428, 429
 online Chinese 123, 125, 528, 574
 online course 123–125, 426, 495, 545, 560
 online resources 70, 140, 277, 278, 353
 orthographic 161, 225, 233, 235, 236, 378
 overseas Chinese 67, 68, 227, 253, 361, 536, 585,
 632, 635, 640, 654
 overseas students 33, 41, 43

 paraphrase 264, 468, 522, 527
 paratextual 212, 214–218, 222
 parody 214
 parts-of-speech 531
 patriotic 21, 25, 395, 396, 399, 402, 404, 615, 618,
 620, 621
 pedagogical grammar 9, 299–301, 305, 307–309,
 313, 314, 316, 317
 pedagogical materials 9, 72, 321–323, 326–328,
 330, 332, 334
 pedagogies 7, 73, 94, 115, 213, 355, 509, 512, 630,
 631, 634
 phonemes 55, 155, 197, 226, 478, 480
 phonetic 19, 20, 74, 140, 152–156, 158, 159, 166,
 169, 172, 173, 177, 179, 181, 189, 191, 193–196,
 200, 203, 204, 206, 226, 227, 229, 233, 331, 480,
 499, 501, 509, 647, 655
 phonology 86, 164, 165, 167, 170, 172,
 177–181, 192, 193, 198, 208, 209, 261,
 406, 549
 phraseology 506, 537, 541
 pinyin IPA 157, 159–161
 pinyin letters 157, 161
 pinyin spelling 164, 177
 pinyin system 27, 169, 171, 177
 pitch contours 166, 171, 191
 pitch patterns 182, 194, 210
 pitch range 171, 172, 174, 177, 182, 185, 186, 193,
 199, 200, 203
 pitch value 153, 158, 167, 199, 208

Index

- placement 3, 69, 70, 72, 289, 346, 350, 389, 408, 410, 412, 428
- polymakers 73, 606, 609, 610, 613
- politeness 89, 90, 94, 402
- political education 18, 20, 21, 623, 624
- political ideology 395, 619
- political leaders 395, 399, 615
- polysemy 387, 388
- polysyllabic 168, 169, 199, 201, 273, 332
- postgraduate 571, 614
- postmethod 40, 41, 45, 83, 146, 147
- PowerPoint 69, 127, 267, 268, 333, 450, 461
- pragmatic competence 89, 363, 469, 510, 551
- pragmatic features 89, 366, 551
- pragmatic knowledge 139, 366, 551
- pragmatics 42, 75, 90, 92, 95, 148, 185, 186, 206, 285, 316, 363, 374, 375, 462, 469, 473, 474, 549
- prepositions 173, 265
- prescribed 140, 463, 616, 619, 652
- proficiency guidelines 70, 76, 87, 103, 115, 134, 350, 374, 420, 421, 451, 645
- proficiency levels 66, 71, 73, 130, 140, 141, 145, 195, 203, 204, 334, 366, 382, 389, 390, 405, 407, 451, 454, 541, 546, 547, 549, 550, 554, 586, 588
- proficiency test 69, 71, 228, 253, 355, 412, 421, 440, 575, 578
- program design 10, 58, 59
- program development 120, 390
- project-based 89, 93, 94, 361, 512
- pronunciation accuracy 196, 203, 209, 504, 509, 511, 519, 523
- pronunciation errors 8, 178, 195–198, 200, 205, 208
- pronunciation teaching 7, 151, 153, 164, 189, 195, 196, 199, 204–208
- prosodic structure 168, 506, 525
- prosody 8, 165, 177, 178, 180, 182, 187–190, 192–194, 196–198, 200, 204, 219
- proverb 540
- psychological 38, 121, 136, 229, 280, 285, 296, 378, 403, 501, 634–636, 639
- qualitative 12, 57, 62, 95, 279, 359, 378, 394, 465, 468, 541, 635, 636
- quantifier 291, 485, 486
- quantitative 126, 164, 170, 193, 359, 394, 403, 428, 465, 505, 541, 635, 636
- radicals 54, 68, 90, 91, 110, 228, 233, 479, 482, 485, 499, 642
- reading comprehension 85, 106, 243, 455, 555
- reading selections 325, 328, 329, 331, 332
- reading skills 26, 352, 471, 550, 643
- reliability 193, 355, 382, 414, 421, 432, 551
- remedial 126, 129, 552
- resultative 135, 188, 302, 494
- retroflex 156, 157
- rhyme 156, 171, 219, 400, 645
- romanization 7, 12, 27, 60, 74, 85, 86, 152, 171, 223, 226, 227, 641, 645, 647
- routine 140, 229, 233, 234, 502
- sandhi 152–154, 164, 167, 169, 170, 172, 175, 176, 179, 192, 194, 198–200, 204, 208, 506, 511, 525
- scaffolding 8, 296, 370, 427, 515, 516, 542, 554, 555
- semiotic 403, 429, 438, 476–484, 490–492
- semi-vowels 156
- sentence patterns 88, 353, 485, 502
- sentence structure 139, 199, 239, 389, 487, 489, 646
- sentence types 184, 185, 215
- simplified characters 27, 28, 31, 67, 211, 212, 227, 228, 232, 326, 331, 501, 503, 652
- simplified Chinese 17, 530, 571
- simplified script 8, 72
- Sino-American 634, 637
- Sino-British 617
- Sino-Japanese 214
- Sino-Korean 214
- sinology 47, 63, 85, 463
- Sino-Tibetan 643, 654
- Skype 114, 512, 515, 517, 518, 521
- slang 362, 429
- slogans 362, 615
- socio-constructivism 11, 512
- sociolinguistic 73, 89, 119, 181, 377, 382, 389, 390, 406, 439, 447, 583, 590, 591, 596
- speech perception 193, 195–197, 208
- speech rhythm 173, 182, 192, 193
- standardization 213, 223, 225, 236, 496, 497, 503, 504, 619, 622
- stereotypes 339, 418, 431
- storytelling 206, 263–265, 371, 374
- stroke 53, 68, 107–109, 217, 226, 229–232, 332, 485, 495, 499, 504, 506, 647
- suggestopedia 231
- suprasegmentals 191, 192, 197
- syllabic 48, 59, 226, 478
- synonyms 197, 274, 275, 280, 282, 334, 527, 537, 627–629
- syntax 8, 35, 138, 139, 193, 194, 215, 217, 218, 253, 261, 285, 296, 297, 406, 526, 535–537, 549
- teacher-centered 68, 88, 125–127, 258, 337, 451, 482
- teaching grammar 40, 91, 131, 258, 260, 262, 264, 271
- teaching listening 95, 254
- teaching reading 19, 20
- teaching resources 43, 67, 101, 259, 260, 448, 457, 584, 586
- teaching standards 7, 40, 632
- teaching vocabulary 40, 45, 272, 273, 275

- teaching writing 230, 408
 technologies 10, 11, 50, 59, 93, 230, 232, 333, 355, 373, 425, 426, 433, 459, 494, 505, 510, 511, 513–515, 518–520, 523, 543
 technology-enhanced 427, 523, 524
 technology-mediated 126, 130, 132, 426, 439
 terminology 6, 26, 37, 39, 197, 342, 418, 419, 449, 458, 542, 549, 550
 textbook compilation 43, 45, 88, 273, 394, 404
 textbook series 67, 546, 548, 652
 tone errors 168, 175, 205
 tone perception 155, 164, 168, 171
 tone production 155, 169, 177, 178, 192, 513
 tone sequences 168, 172, 174, 175
 tone training 166, 170, 172–174, 177
 translation task 528, 534, 541
 transliteration 216, 217, 565, 655
 typology 121, 192, 193, 317

 undergraduate 53, 57, 62, 132, 232, 351, 417, 460, 464, 505, 572, 630, 640, 643
 universal quantifiers 291, 292
 usage-based 8, 139, 257, 260–262, 265, 270, 271
 user-friendly 496, 501, 503, 504

 variability 139, 193, 201, 377
 verb phrase 114, 138, 239, 531, 532
 verb reduplications 188
 video clips 22, 349, 363–367, 369, 370, 450
 videoconferencing 123, 515, 517, 518, 521, 525

 vocabulary lists 171, 232, 265, 268, 331, 370, 451, 453, 642
 vocabulary teaching 19–21, 35, 40, 42, 43, 142, 272, 274, 275, 542
 vocal 56, 181
 vowel 151, 157, 159–163, 166, 181, 510, 645

 web-based 72, 164, 370, 505, 540–542
 webpage 205, 539, 546, 558
 WeChat 10, 92, 362, 425, 427, 429–439, 442, 444–446, 495, 506, 512, 513, 516–519, 524, 525, 545, 552, 597
 Weibo 362, 427, 495, 507
 word combinations 528, 537, 540
 word order 84, 104, 135, 139, 286–289, 474, 485, 500, 537
 word segmentation 90, 528–530, 532, 542
 worksheets 367, 370
 workshop 164, 253, 349, 354, 538, 542, 543, 558, 578, 598

 yes-no question 185, 190, 191
 young children 21, 51, 106, 116, 654
 young learners 402, 404, 567, 577
 YouTube 115, 342, 355, 362, 367, 496, 516, 518, 519

 zài 155, 265, 297, 300, 314
 zero initial 156
 zodiac 69, 348